

Negation book

Edited by

Matti Miestamo

Ljuba Veselinova

Research on Comparative Grammar 2

Research on Comparative Grammar

Series editor

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In this series:

1. Bahrt, Nicklas N. Voice syncretism.

ISSN (print): 2749-7801

ISSN (electronic): 2749-781X

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Matti Miestamo & Ljuba Veselinova (eds.). 2025. *Negation book* (Research on Comparative Grammar 2). Berlin: Language Science Press.

This title can be downloaded at:

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ISBN: **no digital ISBN**

no print ISBNs!

ISSN (print): 2749-7801

ISSN (electronic): 2749-781X

no DOI

ID not assigned!

Cover and concept of design: Ulrike Harbort

Typesetting: Héloïse Calame

Fonts: Libertinus, Arimo, DejaVu Sans Mono, Charis SIL, Source Han Serif ZH

Typesetting software: $\text{\LaTeX}$

`redefine \publisherstreetaddress`

`redefine \publisherurl`

Storage and cataloguing done by `redefine \storageinstitution`

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Introduction

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1 Background and aims

The goal of this volume is to achieve typologically-informed, multifaceted and comprehensive descriptions of the negation systems of languages from different families and geographical areas. The publication is a follow-up from a workshop organized by the editors at the Syntax of the World's Languages 8 conference in Paris in 2018. The greater part of the contributions are based on presentations in that workshop. Negation is a topic that has been widely studied in various branches of linguistics and there is an extensive body of literature devoted to it. Nevertheless, detailed and accurate descriptions of the domain of negation exist for a small minority of the world's languages.

Large-scale typological studies of negation include Dahl 1979, Dryer 2013a,b,c and Miestamo 2005 for standard negation, van der Auwera et al. 2013, Van Olmen 2024 for negative imperatives, Veselinova 2013, 2015 for the negation of existential and other stative predications, Haspelmath 2013, Van Alsenoy 2014 and van der Auwera & Alsenoy 2018 for the negation of indefinite pronouns, and Miestamo 2014 for case marking under negation (for an overview of the whole domain, see Miestamo 2007, 2017, Dahl 2010, van der Auwera & Krasnoukhova 2020).¹ However, there are several aspects of negation that have not been systematically studied in a cross-linguistic perspective. This is partly due to the fact that not enough data from particular languages are available on these subdomains. There have been few systematic efforts to collect data from a wider variety of

¹The references mentioned here are not meant to be an exhaustive list of large-scale typological studies on negation in the literature.

individual languages. This is a gap that needs to be filled both for the benefit of linguistic typology and for the detailed description of individual languages.

One systematic attempt saw the light in [Kahrel & van den Berg 1994](#). In that volume, the negation systems of 16 languages from different parts of the world were described on the basis of a unified questionnaire that addressed the domain of negation with a set of questions derived from typological research done by the late 1980's. The volume has been very useful for typologists and for descriptive linguists as a source of data and as inspiration for systematic and unified collection of data from different languages with very diverse expressions of negation. However, no similar projects have been conducted since the publication of the volume 30 years ago.

A similar effort was undertaken for one specific family, namely Uralic, by [Miestamo et al. 2015](#). For that volume, a functionally oriented questionnaire drawing from the current state-of-the-art knowledge of the typology of negation was developed. The 17 Uralic languages included in the volume were described in a similar way following one and the same template. Thereby the descriptive situation of negation in Uralic languages has been greatly improved. However, this approach is yet to be applied to other languages and language families.

Organizing the Paris workshop and editing the planned volume has been our response to this demand. Our primary goal has been to produce comprehensive and detailed descriptions of negation systems in a diverse body of languages from different parts of the world. The chapters in this volume are based on a revised version of the questionnaire used in [Miestamo et al. 2015](#). The questionnaire is published as one chapter in this volume. It is discussed in more detail in §2 of this introduction.

The volume authors were recruited initially following their participation in the Paris workshop and after that by approaching other specialists of specific areas and families to ensure the genealogical and areal balance of the project, see §3 for further discussion. Each language-specific description of negation constitutes one chapter in the book. The book contains 43 chapters; some of them are co-authored by several people so all in all there are 56 authors participating in this book. Each chapter follows the guidelines detailed in the questionnaire. Our goal has been to cover the subdomains of negation that we deem as typologically salient. Additionally, authors have been encouraged to focus specifically on issues that, in their respective languages, are most distinctive or are especially interesting for cross-linguistic studies. These domains may, for instance, pertain to properties that are cross-linguistically rare or they can be domains that are problematic to describe.

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By describing languages on the basis of the questionnaire, the chapters in this volume have produced comparable datasets of the negation systems of a wide variety of languages from different families and areas. The contributions are also good examples of the fruitful cooperation between typologists and descriptive linguists in the context of diversity linguistics. Typological knowledge is crucial for language description as it helps descriptive linguists see their data in a broader perspective, ask new questions and come up with new analyses. Typologists are dependent on work done by descriptive linguists for their data collection. A typologically and functionally oriented questionnaire thus helps descriptive linguists to find relevant questions to focus on and to structure the description of negation in their respective languages, and in turn, these descriptions feed back to typology as more high quality data that is comparable across languages.

The book is divided into three parts according to geography, following the macroareal divisions in the Glottolog (Hammarström et al. 2024). The first part includes languages from Africa, the second part is made of languages from Eurasia, and the third part brings together languages from Papunesia, Australia, North America and South America. As will be seen in Section 3, the grouping of macroareas into three parts relates to the number of authors we were able to recruit for each area.

2 Questionnaire and conventions

In this section we address first the logic and the structure of the questionnaire in §2.1, then we discuss some issues that have come up during the editing process regarding the use of the questionnaire in §2.2, and finally we explain the glossing conventions adopted in the volume in §2.3.

2.1 Logic and structure of the questionnaire

The idea of a typologically and functionally based questionnaire for the description of negation was originally presented in the Uralic Typology Database Conference in Vienna in 2008 and the first draft was produced for the Symposium on Negation in Uralic languages at the 2010 Congressus Internationalis Fenno-Ugristarum in Piliscsaba (Miestamo 2010). The questionnaire was published as an appendix to the introduction of the volume on *Negation in Uralic languages* (Miestamo et al. 2015), in which negation in 17 Uralic languages was described based on the questionnaire. A revision appeared in the TulQuest questionnaire repository² in 2016 and was distributed to the participants before the Paris work-

²<http://tulquest.huma-num.fr>

shop. For the present volume, a further revision was done with additional input from both editors, and this revised version is published as a chapter in the book (also available on the TulQuest site). Note that some needs for development and revision have been identified by us in the process of editing and suggested to us by colleagues. However, as we have to show the questionnaire to our readers as it was sent to the authors and as it was used by them in preparing their contributions, it has been reproduced in this volume in its 2019 version. Only the formatting has been changed to conform to the style sheet of this volume. Some of the ideas for future development are discussed in 2.2.

The questionnaire has a functional-typological basis. It is organized according to different subdomains of negation, paying special attention to such domains that are typologically salient, i.e. likely to show variation across languages and to differ from basic declarative-clause negation (standard negation). The questionnaire is divided into three main sections: clausal negation, non-clausal negation and other aspects of negation. The first two parts target negative expressions (morphemes, constructions), whereas the third one is about phenomena that are related to negation and happen in connection with negation, but are not themselves expressions of negation; we admit that it is not always easy to draw the line and there will be some variation as to how things are distributed between the sections in different chapters (we will come back to this in 2.2).

The section on clausal negation is divided into 1. standard negation, i.e. the basic way(s) the language has for negating declarative main clauses with a verbal predicate, 2. negation in non-declaratives (mainly imperatives and interrogatives), 3. negation in stative predications (identity, class inclusion, property, existence, location, possession), 4. negation in non-main clauses, and 5. negative lexicalizations (lexically idiosyncratic negation). There is a final subsection, where clausal negation constructions that do not fit under any of the preceding sub-headings can be put.

The section on non-clausal negation is divided into 1. negative replies, 2. negative indefinites and quantifiers, and 3. negative case marking and derivation. Again, there is a final subsection for non-clausal negation constructions not fitting in any of the preceding subsections.

Finally, the section on other aspects of negation has subsections on the 1. scope of negation, 2. negative polarity, 3. marking of NPs under the scope of negation, 4. reinforcing negation, and 5. negation, coordination and complex clauses. A final subsection addresses miscellaneous phenomena that may also be taken into account in the description, such as negative transport, metalinguistic negation, diachronic aspects of negation etc.

In this introduction, we do not explain the contents of the questionnaire in more detail, as that would create overlap with what is explained in the questionnaire. At this point, the reader is thus referred to the questionnaire itself (Chapter 2 in this volume). Note further that, for similar reasons, i.e. to avoid overlap, the questionnaire does not offer a detailed overview of the typology of the different subdomains of negation. There are many published overviews of the typology of negation, e.g. Dahl 2010, van der Auwera & Krasnoukhova 2020 and Miestamo 2007, 2017, that do this and also cite further relevant literature. We advise to consult them parallel to the questionnaire. Especially the two last-mentioned ones, which have a similar structure and focus as the questionnaire, provide a typological introduction to the subdomains and aspects of negation mentioned in the questionnaire.

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Some further notes on the structure of the chapters are in order. Every chapter starts with an introduction (Section 1) that situates the language in its genealogical and areal context, describes its sociolinguistic status and provides a brief typological characterization of the language to serve as a background for the description of negation. It also informs the reader about the methods and material that the description is based on. The three main parts of the questionnaire constitute Sections 2-4 in the chapters, and each chapter has the same 2nd-level subheadings and numbering under these sections. Exceptions to this are the final subsections in each section (2.6, 3.4 and 4.6, respectively) that need to be there only in case there are further negative constructions or negation-related phenomena to report such that cannot be put under the subsections that precede. 3rd-level subheadings are generally not present in the questionnaire and they are thus not unified across the chapters; they can be freely added by authors if need be. However, the questionnaire does have 3rd-level subheadings under subsection 4.6, but these are mere suggestions and need not be present if the authors do not have anything to report under them. Thus even in this case, the authors are bound by the 2nd-level subheadings only. Each chapter is closed by a conclusion, Section 5, which contains a table that puts together the main negative expressions in the language. We have asked the authors to organize the table from form to function, so that it does not merely summarize the functionally-oriented questionnaire but rather lets a language specific perspective take precedence.

The reader will notice that there is quite a lot of variation as to the length of the chapters, so the following explanation is in order. We had originally aimed at chapters of 20-25 pages. At some point we received information from the publisher that there are no length restrictions. At that stage, we did not actively encourage authors to expand their chapters, but for authors whose chapters had

become longer for different reasons, we did not impose strict length restrictions anymore, hence the varying length of the chapters.

2.2 Observations on the use of the questionnaire

In this section, we present some issues that surfaced during the process of editing this book. We are not going through the questionnaire and its application section by section, but we focus on aspects that may have been interpreted in different ways by different authors, on questions/domains of the questionnaire for which data have been difficult to obtain or elicit, and on possible overlaps between different sections and how to solve them. Therefore, in this subsection, the reader should not expect a discussion of the most central aspects of negation that the questionnaire targets, but a less systematic collection of issues that require some clarification.

One central aspect of negation addressed in the questionnaire does however require a comment. The questionnaire encourages authors to pay attention to asymmetry between affirmation and negation, i.e. structural differences that negatives show vis-à-vis affirmatives in addition to the presence of negative markers (see [Miestamo 2005](#)), in connection with all subdomains of negation. In typological literature, it is mainly standard negation that has been discussed in terms of symmetry and asymmetry, but it is possible to extend it to other subdomains as well (see e.g. [Van Olmen 2024](#)), as also suggested by the questionnaire. The chapters differ in how much weight they put on asymmetry. This is naturally also partly dependent on how much asymmetry a given language shows, i.e. how much the structure of negatives differs from the structure of affirmatives. Some chapters address (a)symmetry in many subsections whereas others only mention it briefly in connection with standard negation. As editors, we have encouraged the authors to pay close attention to how negatives differ from affirmatives in the various subdomains of negation, and pointed out that a given structure in a given language could be characterized in terms of asymmetry and the subtypes proposed by [Miestamo 2005](#), but we have not insisted on using this typological classification as such in describing negation in the language. This book is about describing the negation systems of languages in a typological perspective, and therefore, we have encouraged authors to pay attention to questions arising from typological knowledge. However, the main point is to describe the structures of each individual language in its own terms rather than characterizing them in terms of typological classifications. Thus, as regards asymmetry, it is important to explicate how negatives differ from affirmatives in their structure, but it is secondary to the descriptive goals of the volume to label these differences as

one or another subtype of asymmetric negation proposed in typological work. A similar principle has been applied to other typological classifications in specific subdomains of negation.

Some of the subsections of the questionnaire are closely related to each other, and it is not always clear where to discuss a particular phenomenon. Two very closely related sections are 2.4 on non-main clauses and 4.5 on coordination and complex clauses. 2.4 looks at how non-main clauses are negated, but there may be phenomena related to negative non-main clauses that are not expressions of negation, and these may be better discussed in 4.5. On the other hand, if there is a negative coordinator (such as *neither... nor*) that is itself a marker of negation, it should be discussed in Section 2 or 3 depending on whether it is considered a clausal or a non-clausal negator. There is no dedicated section for such negative coordinators in the questionnaire, and in 2 and 3 their right place would be 2.6 or 3.4 addressing other (non-)clausal negation constructions. In many chapters they have been discussed in 4.5 as that is the place where they are easiest to find. This is one point of development for future versions of the questionnaire.

Another set of subsections that address issues that are related in many languages are 3.2 on negative indefinites and quantifiers and 4.2 on negative polarity, which in turn is closely related to other subsections of section 4 addressing the scope of negation and reinforcing negation. Indefinite pronouns that appear under negation are negative polarity items in many languages, i.e. *any(body/thing)* in English. These would be primarily addressed in the section on negative indefinites, but should be mentioned and cross-referenced under negative polarity as well. Similarly, elements that express the scope of negation or emphasis under negation are often the same elements and they may be negative polarity items, so they may end up being mentioned in several subsections. What is always important is that the subsections are cross-referenced, so that the reader who is following the questionnaire can easily find what they are looking for.

While it is often pointed out that data on negation are easy to find in grammars and likewise easy to elicit, some aspects of this questionnaire have proven challenging in this respect. For instance, it has not always been clear that predication of location and existential predications are different predication types. A locative predication asserts the location of a specific referent. An existential predication introduces a new entity into the discourse. Not all languages have a special grammaticalized existential construction, see detailed discussion in [Creissels 2014](#), [Creissels 2019](#), [Haspelmath 2021](#), [Veselinova & Hamari 2022](#). In many languages, there is a special strategy for negating predications of existence, which is, in fact, better described as a separate functional domain, the domain of absence or negative existence. On the other hand, predication of location is often

encoded by several strategies, either SN or the negative existential, depending on the intended meaning and perspective of the speaker. The negation of predication of identity and class inclusion is often encoded by a separate strategy, different from both SN and the negative existential; such strategies have typically been reported. Negation strategies in the latter predication types are not always systematically covered in grammatical descriptions which is why special attention was paid to them here.

We now turn to domains that have an intermediate status as regards lexicon and grammar. Phasal polarity is a functional domain which is typically understood to cover a system of concepts such as *ALREADY*, *NO LONGER*, *STILL*, *NOT YET*, see [van der Auwera 1998](#), [van Baar 1997](#). These concepts have to do with the existence of non-existence of a situation at specific points in time related to other points in time. Thus *ALREADY* is usually defined to encode that (a possibly expected) situation has come to exist; *NO LONGER* expresses that a situation has ceased to persist; *STILL* is used to indicate that a situation continues (despite possible expectations that it should have stopped), and *NOT YET* encodes that a situation has not come into existence (despite possible expectations that it would). In the context of this book, *NOT YET* expressions, also referred to as *NONDUM* when clearly grammaticalized following [Veselinova & Devos 2021](#) have been of special interest. Their discussion would be placed differently in the questionnaire, depending on their status in the language but also following editorial guidance. Thus fully grammaticalized *nondums* may appear in the discussion of SN as they would appear as full-fledged clausal negators, which in some languages constitute a tense-aspect category specific to the domain of negation. However, they might be also mentioned in the section on negative lexicalizations (more on this below). It should be noted that both in the pertinent literature and in this book, there is much less, if any, data on the encoding of the concept *NO LONGER* and the status of these expressions in specific languages. This is a gap yet to be filled by future research.

Negative lexicalizations are introduced in the questionnaire as expressions that combine lexical meaning with negation, as in Kalamang *komahal* 'not know' or *eranun* 'cannot; to not be possible'; they stand in antonymy relationship with their positive counterparts *gonggin* 'know' and *bisa* 'can' (Visser, this volume). The most prototypical cases to be discussed under negative lexicalizations are ones where a particular concept has an idiosyncratic negative counterpart that cannot combine with grammatical expressions of negation. However, the limits of this definition need to be clarified. We need to ask: (i) whether or not a negative lexicalization is the only option to negate a given positive concept; (ii) whether a negative lexicalization may itself be negated by more general negation markers.

Consider the English verbs *fail* and *forget* – do they count as negative lexicalizations when interpreted as ‘not succeed’ and ‘not remember’, respectively? Even if languages do not always have negative lexicalizations in the strict sense, examples that loosely meet the definition, similar to the English verbs just quoted, may also be discussed in the section on negative lexicalizations. The Kalamang verbs cited above are the only options for negating the corresponding positive expressions and they cannot themselves be negated by standard negation. On the other hand, in Aguaruna (Overall, this volume), there are expressions such as *dakitu* ‘refuse, not want’; *tuhintu* ‘be unable’; *kanina* ‘not fit’ which can be negated by the SN expressions in this language. In this sense, and in a more stringent definition, they should be considered border-line cases of negative lexicalizations, just like the English verbs cited above.

Another issue relevant for the discussion of negative lexicalizations relates to our delimitation of lexical and grammatical meaning. This is relevant for expressions such as the negative existential or negative copulas, often glossed ‘not.be’, mentioned/discussed in several different sections due to their numerous uses. Likewise, to come back to phasal polarity, there are expressions such as *jēn* ‘not yet/nondum’ from Kam (Lesage, this volume) which often have an intermediate status between lexical and grammatical markers. In addition, nondums differ from what we see as the most prototypical negative lexicalizations in that they are not idiosyncratic negative counterparts of positive concepts but can freely combine with verbs and are in that sense (similar to) grammatical markers. This brief discussion on negative lexicalizations demonstrates that this subdomain of negation, yet to be explored, is another venue for further development of the questionnaire.

Perhaps it bears to point out again that the questionnaire used here is based on our current knowledge about important subdomains of negation. Like everything in science, it is open to improvement. The discussion in this section has shown that we have already identified some points in need of revision. We hope that this questionnaire can be developed further in the future.

2.3 Glossing conventions

In addition to unity in the structure of the chapters, we strive to achieve unity in other respects as well, including the conventions regarding the presentation of examples. In glossing the examples, we follow the Leipzig Glossing Rules (LGR).³ This means strictly adhering to the LGR in the “morphosyntax of glossing”, i.e.

³<https://www.eva.mpg.de/lingua/resources/glossing-rules.php>

aligning the items on the example and gloss lines and using symbols such as the hyphen and the dot according to what the rules say. Additionally, it means that we base our "lexicon of glossing" on the list of grammatical category abbreviations recommended in the LGR. Obviously, in a volume containing chapters on more than 40 languages, many more abbreviations are necessary than what is provided in the rather short LGR list. Each chapter has a list of abbreviations in the end, and the abbreviations are unified across chapters.

In choosing the abbreviations, we have been guided by a few important principles. One of these is brevity, and we try to use abbreviations that are not unnecessarily long, so that examples will take as little space as possible. However, due to the principle of transparency, longer abbreviations may sometimes be preferred. Transparency means that the letters used in the abbreviation actually reflect the term that is being abbreviated. Thus in order to abbreviate terms like declarative negator and imperative negator, we use the abbreviations DECL.NEG and IMP.NEG, rather than NEG1 and NEG2 even if the descriptive tradition of some language group might prefer the latter. This also conforms to the principle that the terms and abbreviations used should relate to the semantics/function of the categories they refer to. This means that numbers are used in glossing only when they refer to meanings like person and noun class, but not merely to distinguish between categories without any reference to function (e.g. using numbers to differentiate between different negators NEG1 and NEG2 as above) This is in line with the functional-typological orientation of the volume. The final principle to be mentioned here is unity, so we use the same abbreviation for the same term in different chapters and the same abbreviation will always refer to the same term across the chapters. This is a further reason to avoid abbreviations such as NEG1 and NEG2 as these could refer to declarative and imperative negation in one language and standard/verbal negation and negative existence in another. It should be emphasized that using a unified set of abbreviations is not in conflict with the theoretical position that categories are language-particular see [Lazard 1992](#), [Dryer 1997](#) [Haspelmath 2007](#), [Haspelmath 2010](#). The use of a unified set only means that common principles are applied in abbreviating the terms that each author uses for the descriptive categories in their respective language.

3 Languages presented in this volume

As the topic is very broad in nature, and at the same time rendered very detailed by the questionnaire, the project attracted a lot of interest. At the start of this book project we had as many as 58 interested contributors, 36 of whom also

participated in the workshop at the Syntax of World Languages conference in Paris. The workshop participants were invited to author a chapter for this volume. In the course of this project, some authors dropped out and some came in after the workshop and the subsequent call soliciting participation in the book project.

While strict sampling stratification is not possible in a collective enterprise like this, our ambition as editors has been to achieve a balanced representation of all linguistic macroareas as given in the Glottolog: Africa, Eurasia, Papunesia, Australia, North and South America. We also targeted languages which lack detailed descriptions of their negation systems. The inclusion of lesser studied and endangered languages was encouraged but the main criteria have been to highlight the genealogical and geographic diversity of human languages as well as to bring in high quality contributions. Thus the reader will find descriptions of some well studied languages, and also descriptions of languages whose documentation and study are just beginning, many of them severely endangered. We also tried to break the divide between the scholarship of spoken and signed languages by also including a study of the Sign Language of the Netherlands.

A general breakdown of the distribution of phyla and languages according to macro-area is shown in Table 1. A detailed listing of the languages is shown in Table 2, their geographic distribution is displayed on Map 1. The order of languages in 2 as well as in the book follows, to the extent possible, a direction from north to south for Africa, North America and South America; west to east for Eurasia and Papunesia.

Table 1: Quantitative overview of the genealogical coverage offered in this volume

Macro-area	Phyla	Languages
Africa	5	13
Eurasia	9	13
Papunesia	2	3
Australia	2	2
North America	6	7
South America	5	5
	29 ^a	43

^aThe actual number of phyla is 27. Indo-European occurs both in Africa, via Afrikaans, and obviously, in Eurasia. Similarly, Afro-Asiatic is found both in Africa and in Eurasia, via Hebrew.

Some comments on the presentation of the language list in Table 2 are in order.

The terms *top level family*, *phylum* and *language stock* are used interchangeably in this section. The classification in the table follows the Glottolog. We are fully aware of the fact that the Glottolog may not always conform with the views of experts on specific families. The classification in the table may thus differ from what the authors say in their chapters. The choice to use the Glottolog here is solely motivated by the need for consistency within a single table, and we do not claim that the Glottolog would overrule the expert views of the authors. Those cases where the Glottolog deviates from the author's view have been indicated with an asterisk in Table 2 (except in cases of mere orthographic variation). The 43 languages featured in the book represent 27 phyla. As discussed above, due to the interplay of different criteria – achieving adequate representation of language diversity, encouraging the study of smaller and endangered languages, specifically with regard to negation, quality of scholarship, and the availability of authors – a balanced representation of the macroareas has not been achieved as is evident from Table 1.

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Table 2: Detailed listing of the languages in the volume I/II

Phylum	Subgrouping(s)	Language	Glottocode	Author(s)
AFRICA				
Afro-Asiatic	Cushitic, Beja*	Beja	beja1238	M. Vanhove
	Cushitic, East Cushitic*	Kambaata	kamb1316	Y. Treis
	Berber	Siwi	siwi1239	V. Schiattarella
Nilotic	Eastern Nilotic	Lopit	lopi1242	J. Moodie
Atlantic-Congo	Narrow Bantu*	Gyeli	gyel1242	N. Grimm
		Ngoreme	ngur1263	A. Laine, R. Bernander, H. Gibson
		Ruuli	ruul1235	E. Ruppert, S. Namyalo, A. Witzlack-Makarevich
		Cuwabo	chuw1238	R. Guérois
		Kam	kamm1249	J. Lesage
		North-Volta-Congo, Gbaya-Manza-Ngbaka	nort2775	P. Roulon-Doko
		Northwest Gbaya	mank1251	A. Montébran
Mande	Central Atlantic	Mankanya	mann1248	M. Khachaturyan
Indo-European	Southeastern Mande*	Mano	afri1274	D. Van Olmen, A. Breed, E. Kotzé
	Germanic	Afrikaans		
EURASIA				
Sign Language	Dutch-Belgian Sign	Sign Language of the Netherlands	dutc1253	U. Klomp, M. Oomen, R. Pfau
Indo-European	Slavic	Bulgarian	bulg1262	L. Veselinova
	Iranian	Pashto	pash1269	H. Liljegren, M. K. Khan
Afro-Asiatic	Semitic	Modern Hebrew	hebr1245	O. Amiraz
Uralic	Saami	Lule Saami	lule1254	J. Ylikoski, O. Kejonen
	Finnic	Veps	veps1250	R. Grünthal
Nakh-Dagestanian	Avar-Andic-Tsezic*	Andi	andi1255	T. Maisak
	Nakh	Tsova Tush	bats1242	F. Anker
Mongol-Khitani	Eastern Mongolic	Khalkha Mongolian	halh1238	B. Brosig
Sino-Tibetan	Kuki-Chin-Naga*	Amri Karbi	amri1238	N. Philippova
	Gyalrongic [...] Horpa	Geshiza	gesh1238	S. Honkasalo
Austroasiatic	Khasi-Palaung*	Rumai Palaung	ruma1248	R. Weymuth
Nivkh	Nivkh	Nivkh	nivk1234	E. Gruzdeva, M. Fedotov

Table 3: Detailed listing of the languages in the volume II/II

Phylum	Subgrouping(s)	Language	Glottocode	Author(s)
PAPUNESIA				
Austronesian	Malayo-Polynesian	Sundanese	sund1252	M. Butters
	Oceanic [...] Northern Vanuatu	Dorig	weta1242	A. François
West Bomberai*	Kalamang	Kalamang	kara1499	E. Visser
AUSTRALIA				
Southern Daly	Murriny Patha	Murrinhpatha	murr1258	R. Nordlinger
Worrorran	Ngarinyin	Ngarinyin	ngar1284	S. Spronck
NORTH AMERICA				
Siouan	Mississippi Valley	Nakoda	assi1247	V. Collette
Iroquoian	Northern Iroquoian	Mohawk	moha1258	M. Mithun
	Northern Iroquoian	Oneida	onei1249	J. P. Koenig, K. Michelson
Pomoan	Southern Pomoan-Kashaya	Kashaya	kash1280	B. Olsson
Muskogean	Alabaman-Koasati	Koasati	koas1236	J. B. Martin
Otomanguean	Zapotec	Teotitlán del Valle Zapotec	teot1238	A. Gutiérrez
Mixe-Zoque	Mixe	Chuxnabán Mixe	quet1239	C. Dagostino
SOUTH AMERICA				
Chibchan	Arhuacic	Kogi	cogu1240	D. Knuchel
Arawakan	Japura-Columbia	Yukuna	yucu1253	M. Lemus Serrano, F. Rose
Chicham	Aguaruna	Aguaruna	agua1253	S. Overall
Nuclear-Macro-Je	Je	Panará	pana1307	B. Bardagil
Araucanian*	Mapudungun	Mapudungun	mapu1245	F. Zúñiga

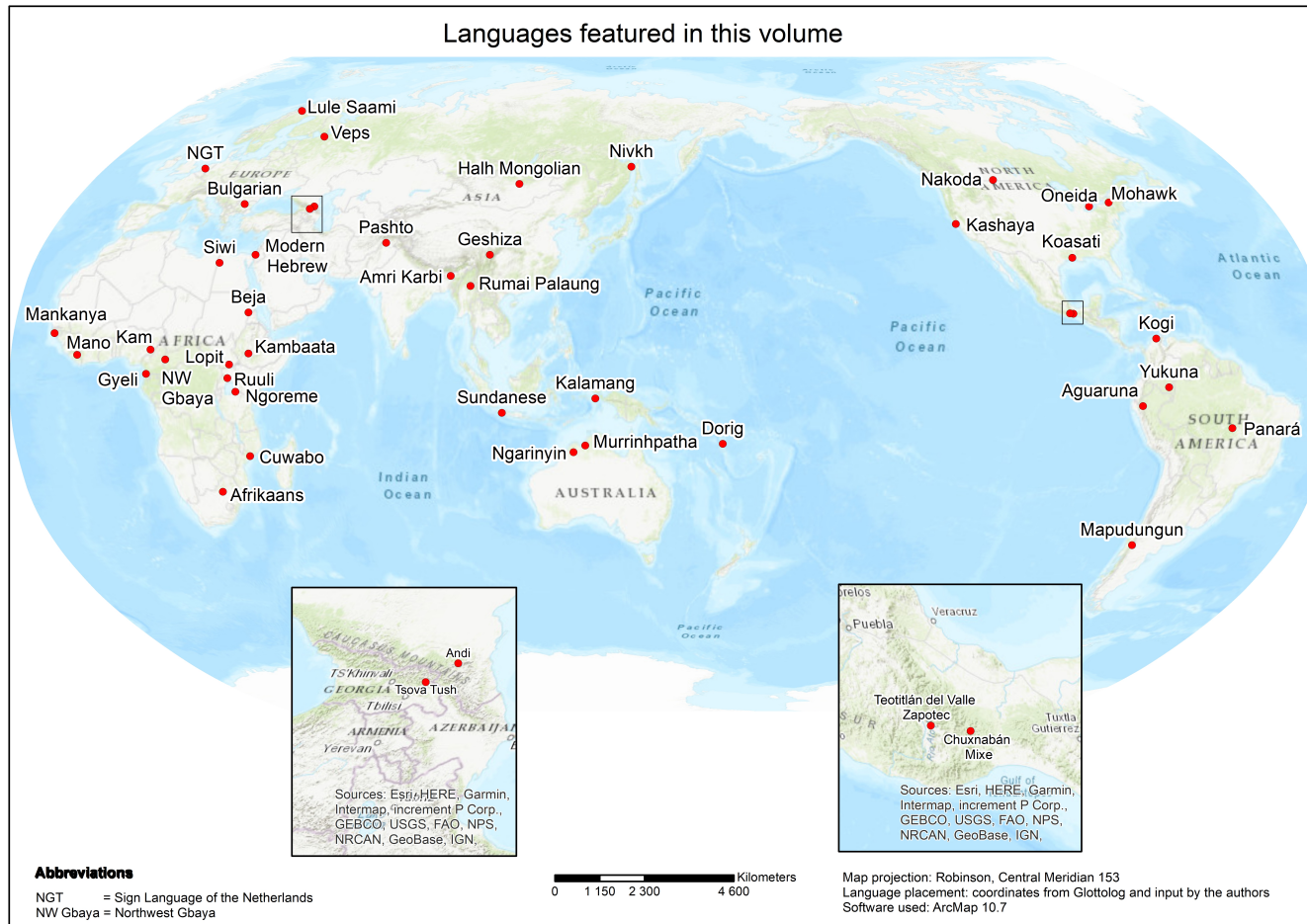


Figure 1: Geographic distribution of the languages covered here

As indicated in Table 1, there are five phyla represented in the African macro-area. Four of them are native to Africa: Atlantic-Congo and Afro-Asiatic that cover large parts of the continent while Nilotic and Mande are more localized. Indo-European as a colonial newcomer is represented as well. As is well known, Atlantic-Congo is a major language stock that branches out into numerous and very diverse subgroups. Bantu is among the largest subfamilies and for this reason it is justified that it is represented here by several languages that also reflect the west-east divide in the family. The Atlantic-Congo phylum is further represented by other subgroups in Central and West Africa which contribute to the more adequate representation of this wide-spread phylum. As shown in Table 1, four out of five possible subfamilies of the Afro-Asiatic phylum are included. Smaller families in both East and West Africa are also covered. Given the overall number of languages included in this volume, we consider the African macro-area relatively well represented.

A similar observation can be made about Eurasia. In the context of this book, its diversity is presented by including both large stocks such as Indo-European, Uralic and Sino-Tibetan but also by featuring some smaller families and isolate language clusters. They include Nakh-Daghestanian, Mongolic-Khitian and Nivkh, spread from the Caucasus to the Russian Far East. The Nakh-Daghestanian family is represented by two languages, which belong to two distinct branches of the family and are also geographically separated by the Caucasian Mountains: Andi (Avar-Andic-Tsezic) spoken in the Botlikhsky District of the Republic of Daghestan, northern part of the mountains, and Tsova Tush, a Nakh language, spoken in a village in Eastern Georgia, southern part of the Caucasian mountain chain. Apart from addition to the genealogical and geographic coverage of the volume, the inclusion of Nivkh adds also depth in that both of its main varieties are described.

As stated above, the genealogical diversity of Papunesia is not well covered here. However, it should be noted that the two phyla from this area are of very distinct character. One is Austronesian, which is geographically the most wide-spread family in the world. It is represented by two languages which are far apart both geographically and genealogically within the phylum: Sundanese, spoken primarily in West Java and Banten, Western Indonesia, and by Dorig, an Oceanic language from the Torres Banks linkage, Northern Vanuatu. The other family from Papunesia is Greater West Bomberai⁴ contained to East Timor and West Papua. It is illustrated by Kalamang, considered to form a branch on its own within this family. This language is spoken on the biggest of the three Karas Islands, West Papua province, Eastern Indonesia.

⁴West Bomberai in Glottolog.

The Australian languages featured in the book are Murrinhpatha (Southern Daly) and Ngarinyin (Worrorran). They are both located in Northern Territory, linguistically, the most diverse region of the continent. As indicated above, Murrinhpatha and Ngarinyin belong to distinct families with very different morpho-syntactic characteristics; the locations where they are still used are far apart. We have to acknowledge that the coverage of Australia would have been more adequate if at least one Pama-Nyungan language were included in the book. We hope that this can be picked up and remedied in future publications.

North America is represented by six different phyla spread across the continent thus it can be considered relatively well represented in this book. The Iroquoian languages, Oneida and Mohawk included here represent one and the same subgroup, Northern Iroquoian. While this contradicts the goal of including as diverse languages as possible, having the possibility to contrast two very closely related languages is usually very instructive for building up informed and comprehensive typologies.

As is well known, in South America we observe few very large phyla and a huge number of smaller families and isolates. Languages from three of its geographically and genealogically diverse families are represented here: Yukuna (Arawakan), Panará (Nuclear Macro-Je) and Kogi (Chibchan). In addition, we have also included Aguaruna, a language from a tightly knit family Chicham (formerly known as Jivaroan), spoken in the south of Ecuador and Mapundungun, a language isolate⁵ of southern Chile. While the inclusion of more smaller families from South America would have been desirable to achieve a better genealogical representation, it has to be pointed that the languages included here are geographically wide apart (see Map 1) and spread across the entire continent. In this sense, the coverage of South America is acceptable.

As stated in the beginning of this section, the selection of languages presented here does not constitute a properly stratified sample. Still, we hope that the studies in this book provide a diverse enough picture of the complexities of negation as manifested in natural languages. We also hope that they will inspire future studies and new perspectives on this fascinating domain that has been and continues to be the focus of many works, in linguistics and beyond.

Acknowledgements

[to be added]

⁵Araucanian in Glottolog.

MM: @LSP: alphabetization of van der Auwera: should it be at A rather than V as it is a small-letter van? Is it possible to have it as "van der Auwera, Johan..." instead of "Auwera, Johan van der..." and still have it appear at A?

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Questionnaire for describing the negation system of a language

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[revised August 2016, small corrections August 2018]

[February 2019, revisions done together with Ljuba Veselinova]

General remarks and instructions

This questionnaire explicates the different aspects of negation that should be covered in the description of the domain of negation in a language. To keep the length of the questionnaire in reasonable proportions, the questionnaire itself does not explain very deeply the typology of the different subdomains of negation, or give examples, and typological literature is meant to be consulted while working with the questionnaire. Some pointers to relevant literature are given in the questionnaire, but this is not done systematically, and the user of the questionnaire is advised to make use of typological overviews such as [Miestamo 2007, 2017](#), and further typological literature cited in these.

The questionnaire starts from function and asks what the formal constructions expressing these functions are in each language.

Note that depending on the language, some forms and constructions may fall under more than one subsections.

In sections §2 Clausal negation and §3 Non-clausal negation, describe all the different constructions used to express negation in the language, paying attention to:

- Negative marker(s) (see [Dahl 1979](#), [Payne 1985](#), [Dryer 2005, 2011a,b](#)):
 - type: particle, clitic, affix, verb, noun, ...
 - position: pre-verbal, postverbal, clause-initial, clause-final...

- number: one marker, two markers (discontinuous), or even more...
- Structural differences between positives vs. negatives (see [Miestamo 2005: 51ff](#), [Miestamo 2007, 2017](#))
 - Are negative markers simply added to a corresponding positive, or does the structure of the clause differ from the affirmative in other ways, too? (constructional asymmetry) Describe the structural differences.
 - Are the same grammatical categories available in the negative as well, or are some distinctions made in the affirmative lost in the negative? (paradigmatic asymmetry) Describe the differences in the paradigms available in the negative vs. affirmative.
- What are the more specific functions of these negative constructions – which environments are they used in, i.e. what do they negate?
 - Note specifically which categories/environments use the same negative construction.

Languages often have different negative constructions for negation in different environments (clausal negation, different clause types, constituent negation, negative indefinites etc.). In Sections §2 and §3 the different negative constructions should be described, clausal negation in §2 and non-clausal negation in section §3. The subsections deal with different clause types and environments, in which negation may show dedicated constructions, different from the negation of other clause types / environments.

In the description of each negative construction, please take into account the points discussed above (negative markers, structural (a)symmetry, functions). Please also give illustrative examples (both the negative and its non-negative counterpart whenever possible).

1 The language

Give a general characterization of the language in terms of geography, genealogy, contacts, sociolinguistic status, dialectal variation etc. Please, provide also the ISO and Glottolog codes identifying the language.

[For the papers proceeding from the SWL8 Negation workshop in Paris in September 2018, the length of this section should be 1–1.5 pages, i.e. up to 750 words.]

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation (SN) refers to the (basic) way(s) a language has for negating declarative verbal main clauses (see especially [Payne 1985](#), [Miestamo 2005](#)). E.g., in Spanish (1), SN is expressed by a construction in which the negative marker *no* precedes the verb. In Finnish (2), standard negation is expressed by a construction in which the negative auxiliary *e-* appears as the finite element of the sentence, carrying the verbal person-number markers, and the lexical verb is in a non-finite form (uninflected present connegative in the present and past participle in the past tense).

(1) Spanish (constructed examples)

- a. El perro está ladrando.
DEF dog be.3SG bark.PTCP
'The dog is barking.'
- b. El perro no está ladrando.
DEF dog NEG be.3SG bark.PTCP
'The dog is not barking.'
- c. El perro ladró.
DEF dog bark.PST.3SG
'The dog barked.'
- d. El perro no ladró.
DEF dog NEG bark.PST.3SG
'The dog did not bark.'

(2) Finnish (constructed examples)

- a. Koira haukku-u.
dog bark-3SG
'The dog is barking.'
- b. Koira ei hauku.
dog NEG.3SG bark.CNG.PRS
'The dog is not barking.'
- c. Koira haukku-i.
dog bark-PST.3SG
'The dog barked.'

- d. Koira ei haukku-nut.
dog NEG.3SG bark-PST.PTCP.SG
'The dog did not bark.'

As explained above, pay attention to the type and position of the negative marker(s) as well as to any structural differences between the negatives and the corresponding affirmatives. Are negative markers simply added to a corresponding positive, or does the structure of the clause differ from the affirmative in other ways, too (constructional asymmetry)? Are the same grammatical categories available in the negative as well, or are some distinctions made in the affirmative lost in the negative (paradigmatic asymmetry)? Which types of asymmetry identified by Miestamo (2005) do these differences instantiate? For the relationship between aspectual categories and negation, see also Miestamo & van der Auwera 2011.

Languages may have different standard negation constructions, e.g., in different TAM categories, in different person/number/gender categories etc. For example in Komi, the present and the past use negative verb constructions with a different stem of the negative verb (3a–3d), and the perfect and the pluperfect use a completely different construction with a negative particle (3e–3h).

(3) Komi-Zyrian (Rédei 1978: 105–109)

- a. Šet-e.
give-3SG.PRS
'(s)he gives.'
- b. O-z šet.
NEG-3 give
'(s)he does not give.'
- c. Šet-i-s.
give-PRET-3SG
'(s)he gave.'
- d. E-z šet.
NEG.PRET-3 give
'(s)he did not give.'
- e. Šet-əm-a.
give-PERF-3SG
'(s)he has given.'

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- f. Abu *šet-əm-a*.
NEG give-PERF-3SG
'(s)he has not given.'
- g. *Şet-əm-a* *vəli*.
give-PERF-3SG be.PRET.3SG
'(s)he had given.'
- h. Abu *šet-əm-a* *vəli*.
NEG give-PERF-3SG be.PRET.3SG
'(s)he had not given.'

Describe all the different constructions used in different standard negation environments (declarative verbal main clauses). One temporal meaning that very often has its own dedicated negative construction are the so-called 'not yet' or *nondum* tenses (Comrie 1985: 54; Veselinova 2017), and special attention should be paid to the existence of such negative tenses.

Languages may have clausal negation constructions differing from standard negation in different clause types. There may be a dedicated negative construction for imperatives, non-verbal clauses, etc. Sections §2.2–2.4 should describe negation in each of these clause types. In case a clause type does not have a dedicated negative construction, it should be briefly noted which negative construction, already described, is used to negate it, giving also an illustrative example.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Do imperatives have a dedicated negative construction different from standard negation (or show special behaviour with respect to standard negation in some way at least)? Describe the dedicated construction (special behaviour) according to the instruction given above (neg-markers, (a)symmetry, functions) and give examples. You may also characterize negative imperatives in terms of the typological classification proposed by van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev) (2013); for differences between negative and positive imperatives, see also Miestamo & van der Auwera 2007 and Aikhenvald 2010.

What about other non-declaratives (questions, (other) non-declarative mood categories)? If there are any special constructions, describe them here, too. For negative questions, it is especially interesting to comment on their function/use – e.g., is there an expectation of a positive or negative answer or are they neutral in this respect?

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Stative predications (aka non-verbal predications) can be divided into different types following [Payne \(1997: 111ff\)](#), see also [Veselinova 2014](#)):

- equation, e.g., *She is my mother.* – *She is not my mother.*
- proper inclusion, e.g., *Kurumaku is a hunter.* – *Kurumaku is not a hunter.*
- attribution, e.g., *She is intelligent.* – *She is not intelligent.*
- locative predication, e.g., *The cat is on the mat.* – *The cat is not on the mat.*
- existential predication, e.g., *There are wild cats.* – *There are no wild cats.*
- possessive predication, e.g., *Tom has a car.* – *Tom doesn't have a car.*

As [Veselinova \(2015\)](#) notes, attribution can be further divided into permanent and temporary property assignment: *Luna is tall* vs. *Luna is happy*, and under existential predication, we can further identify locative-presentative constructions such as *There are wild cats in Africa*.

Note that the distinction between existentials and locatives lies in that locatives have a definite subject and they do not introduce new participants in the discourse, whereas existentials do introduce new participants. The subjects of existential predications are generic; they typically appear in bare form or if marked, their marking will be different from that of subjects in other kinds of predications, cf. also [Dryer 2007](#), [Veselinova 2013a](#), [McNally 2016](#).

How are these clause types negated? Do any of these clause types have a dedicated negative construction different from standard negation or from the other non-verbal clause types (or show special behaviour with respect to standard negation or the other non-verbal clause types in some way at least)? Which types are negated similarly and which ones differently? Is there a difference between temporary and permanent property assignment as regards negation. Do generic vs. specific predicates behave differently as regards negation? Describe the dedicated construction (special behaviour) according to the instruction given above (neg-markers, (a)symmetry, functions) and give examples.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

How is negation in dependent/subordinate clauses expressed – standard negation or dedicated constructions? Describe the constructions according to the

above instructions. Pay attention to both finite and non-finite dependent clauses. Can non-finite clauses be negated? Are they negated with the standard negator, a special negator or are there special negative non-finite forms?

In Finnish, for example (4), finite subordinate clauses are negated by standard negation but non-finite dependent clauses such as (4c) cannot be negated. In English, on the other hand, the equivalent of (4d) ‘I saw her/him not come’ would be grammatical.

(4) Finnish (constructed examples)

- a. Näin että hän tule-e.
see.PST.1SG that 3SG come-3SG
‘I saw that (s)he’s coming.’
- b. Näin että hän ei tule.
see.PST.1SG that 3SG NEG.3SG come.CNG.PRS
‘I saw that (s)he’s not coming.’
- c. Näin häne-n tule-va-n.
see.PST.1SG 3SG-GEN come-PTCP.PRS-GEN
‘I saw her/him come.’
- d. *Näin häne-n ei tule-va-n.
see.PST.1SG 3SG-GEN NEG come-PTCP.PRS-GEN
‘I saw her/him not come.’

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Lexical meanings may combine with negation to form lexically idiosyncratic negatives. Cross-linguistically common lexicalizations include ‘not yet’, ‘not exist’, ‘not be of identity’, ‘not know’, ‘cannot, not be able to’, ‘not want’, ‘not talk’, ‘not need’, ‘not enough’, ‘not like’, and ‘not see’ (cf. Veselinova 2013b). Describe the form and behaviour of any such items in the language.

Note that some of these may be better treated in other sections, e.g. ‘not exist’ and ‘not be of identity’ under stative predications, and ‘not yet’ under standard negation in case it can be seen as part of the tense system rather than as a more independent lexical item.

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

If there are other clausal negation constructions, not covered in sections §2.1–§2.5, section §2.6 can be added to discuss them. One possible example would be

clausal negation constructions appearing in special pragmatic contexts or showing special pragmatic effects.

3 Non-clausal negation

This section deals with constructions/elements expressing negation other than clausal negation.

3.1 Negative replies

How are negative replies to polar questions expressed? Are there one-word negative replies like English *no*? Relate them to the corresponding affirmative replies.

What is the semantics of negative replies – do they disagree with the content or with the polarity of the question, i.e. do both of the replies in (5–6) mean that the dog is not barking or does the latter mean that the dog is barking?

(5) A: Is the dog barking?

B: No!

(6) A: Isn't the dog barking?

B: No!

Particles that disagree with the polarity of the question are called polarity-reversing particles by Holmberg (2015). The Guaraní particle *tove* is a polarity-reversing particle that can occur as reply to both positive and negative questions, while French *si* or German *doch* can only function as positive answers to negative questions. Please comment also on (the semantics of) affirmative replies to negative questions.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Describe the negation of indefinite pronouns and adverbs in the language, e.g. *nobody*, *no-one*, *nowhere*, *never*, *none*, *no*; *anybody*, *anyone*, *anywhere*, *ever*, *one*, *any*.

- How are these related to indefinites in non-negatives? What is the range of use of these indefinites in non-negative contexts (e.g., English *nobody* is negative only but *anybody* has non-negative uses as well); these functions can be described in terms of the semantic map proposed by Haspelmath (1997), cf. also Van Alsenoy 2014.

Questionnaire for describing the negation system of a language

- How are they used in clauses: Are they used together with clausal negation or not (English *I saw nobody* vs. *I didn't see anybody*)? (cf. Haspelmath 2013 [2005]). In which positions can they occur in the clause?
- In case the language does not have indefinites or cannot use them in negatives, how are the equivalent meanings expressed, e.g., 'I didn't see anybody', 'Nobody came', 'The dog never barked', 'You didn't go anywhere.'?
- Note that this subsection is related to negative polarity which is also a topic in §4 below. Try to find a balance between what is treated here and what in §4.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking (abessives/caritives/privatives)

How are meanings of absence, opposition and antonymy, such as 'without', '-less', or 'un-', expressed on the lexical/phrasal level, e.g., *without a book*, *bookless*, *unread*, *unreadable*.

- Do verbs, nouns and adjectives behave similarly or do they have different markers?
- Are the markers adpositions, inflectional case markers, or derivation; if it is a primarily nominal marker, how does it combine with verbs?
- If the language has several of these, what is their division of labour, i.e. which functions does each marker express and what is its distribution?
- NB! If these markers are used in clausal negation constructions, these functions should be described in §2.

3.4 Other negative constructions/expressions

Describe and illustrate any other negative constructions/expressions that are not covered above. E.g. negative coordinators such as English *neither... nor*.

4 Other aspects of negation

This section pays attention to various morphosyntactic, semantic and pragmatic phenomena that are not negative constructions/expressions themselves, but arise in connection with negation.

Note that some of the topics overlap with each other or with points raised in Sections §2–3. Please give careful thought to how to relate the topics in different sections to each other so that the same thing is not repeated but that the readers can easily see the connections.

4.1 The scope of negation

How is the scope of negation narrowed to a specific constituent (e.g., Foc Neg-Verb vs. Neg-Foc Verb)? What is the role of intonation and stress in coding the scope of negation? Prosodic prominence may be indicated by underlining.

Scope-related questions more generally? Note that examples discussed under different topics of the questionnaire may be discussed here in terms of their scope properties.

4.2 Negative polarity

List negative polarity items, their form/meaning/use (licencing conditions). Note that this overlaps to some extent with section §3.2.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Is case marking affected under negation (e.g., partitive/genitive objects or subjects)? Any other effects negation might have on the marking of NPs, such as change or loss of determiners, effects on the marking of focus, etc? Cf. [Miestamo 2014](#).

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Describe and illustrate the means used for reinforcing negation. Prosody should also be paid attention to here. To the extent that emphatic negatives involve elements forming separate negative constructions/expressions, they can also be treated or at least mentioned at relevant points in Sections §2 or §3.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

How is the coordination of positive+negative clause or two negative clauses expressed? Are there special negative coordinators, such as *neither, nor* ? Are there special constructions for contrastive negation (e.g. *This is a dog, not a cat*; *This is not a cat but a dog*); this is also related to the scope of negation and can be taken up in §4.1 as well?

What about subordination? Are there negative conjunctions, such as *lest* ? Note that this is related to section §2.4.

To the extent that the negative coordinators and conjunctions are elements forming separate negative constructions/expressions, they can also be treated or at least mentioned at relevant points in Sections §2 or §3.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

Here you can take up further aspects of negation to the extent that you have been able to find data on them. It is advisable to try to cover as many as possible of the phenomena that have been given a separate subsection below. Any other aspects of negation can also be addressed in case they are of special interest in the language described.

4.6.1 Negative transport

Negative transport (neg-raising) means that a higher-clause negative is interpreted as negating a lower-clause predicate, e.g. *I don't think they're coming* meaning *I think they're not coming* (see Horn 1978, 1989). Does neg-transport occur? Which predicates allow it and which ones do not?

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation: this means that that what is negated is not the content of the proposition but rather the way it is expressed – “a device for objecting to a previous utterance on any grounds whatever, including the conventional or conversational implicata it potentially induces, its morphology, its style or register, or its phonetic realization.” (Horn 1989: 363)

- Some examples of metalinguistic negation (from Horn 1989):
 - *He doesn't have three children, he has four.*
 - *Around here we don't like coffee – we love it.*

- *He didn't call the [pólis], he called the [polís]*
- *Phydeaux didn't shit the rug, he soiled the carpet.*
- Metalinguistic negation may lead to different behaviour of negative polarity items:
 - *John didn't manage to solve {some/*any} problems – they were quite easy for him to do.* (Horn 1985: 130)

How does the language treat metalinguistic negation. Does it show special behaviour different from ordinary (“descriptive”) negation? How does metalinguistic negation relate to contrastive negation, which may or may not be metalinguistic.

4.6.3 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

Are there any interesting non-negative uses of negative constructions or constructions resembling negative constructions in the language? One particular phenomenon to pay attention to here is the so-called expletive negation in complements to predicates such as ‘fear’ or ‘doubt’, e.g. in French *Je crains qu'elle ne vienne*. ‘I’m afraid she will come.’, or in subordinate clauses introduced by conjunctions meaning ‘until’ or ‘before’, e.g. in French *...avant qu'il ne vienne*. ‘...before he comes.’ If this phenomenon is found in the language, which contexts trigger it?

4.6.4 Summary of what can be negated in the language

According to the instructions in the beginning of this questionnaire, the description of each negative construction should pay attention to whether some grammatical categories are lost in the negative. Here, you can still come back to the question what is negatable in the language? Can, e.g., quantifiers be negated – which ones can and which ones cannot? What about clauses with indefinite subjects?

4.6.5 Diachronic notes and observations

The questionnaire aims at a synchronic description of negation in a language. Notes on diachronic issues, such as Jespersen Cycles (van der Auwera 2009, 2010) or the Negative Existential Cycle (Croft 1991, Veselinova 2014, 2016), may be made here in this final section or in the relevant sections that they concern.

4.6.6 Any other phenomena

Any other phenomena that should be taken into account in describing the system of negation in your language but that has not been covered above? Anything that is of special interest in the negation system of the language but does not fit under any of the headings above.

Abbreviations

1	first person	PRS	present
3	third person	PRET	preterite
CNG	connegative	PST	past
DEF	definite	PTCP	participle
GEN	genitive	SG	singular
NEG	negative		

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Negation in Beja

Martine Vanhove

This chapter presents the negative constructions of Beja, a North-Cushitic (Afroasiatic) language, which are basically asymmetrical. It discusses in turn (i) standard negation in declarative main clauses with A/Cat/TAM asymmetry; (ii) the two negative types in non-declaratives, one of which does not use a negator but stem alternation and specific inflection; (iii) negation in non-main clauses (even more asymmetrical than declaratives); (iv) privatives, which include one case of clause chaining instead of a negator; (v) phasal polarity expressions; (vi) negation in stative predications; (vii) negative replies and their pragmatics. It also discusses the absence of negative transport, as well as of negative indefinites and the strategies used instead.

Keywords: declarative, non-declarative, clausal, non-clausal, grammaticalization.

1 The Beja language

Beja (ISO: **bej**, Glottocode: **beja1238**), locally named *biḍawije:t*, is the sole language of the North-Cushitic branch of the Afroasiatic phylum. It is lexically and grammatically quite distant from its closest Lowland East and Central Cushitic relatives, Afar-Saho and Agaw, and is considered as peripheral within the Cushitic family. It is spoken in the northernmost part of the Cushitic-speaking area, mainly in Eastern Sudan between the Red Sea and the river Atbara by some 2,000,000 speakers, and in Northern Eritrea (approx. 60,000 speakers). It used to be spoken in Southern Egypt, but it seems speakers have now shifted to Arabic.

Beja dialectology is ill-known, but dialects do not seem much differentiated. Three main dialectal zones are identified (Morin 1995): North, Centre and South, which have further local and tribal-based subdivisions (Wedekind 2012). Dialects are differentiated on the basis of isoglosses based on vowel variation, pronominal sets, morphological use of pitch accent for plural formation, accommodations of Arabic borrowings and some lexical peculiarities.

Beja has had intensive contacts with Arabic (Central Semitic), and Tigre (North Ethiosemitic branch of South Semitic), probably also with Nubian (Nilo-Saharan). Today, in Sudan, where I did my fieldwork, bilingualism with Sudanese Arabic is widespread and expanding. However, this is less so for women who lead a cloistered life. Only a minority of the Bejas have knowledge of Tigre (mostly in Eritrea).

In Sudan, formal education is increasing among young villagers and city dwellers, but girls seldom go further than primary level. The sole language of education is classical Arabic, with a mixture of colloquial Sudanese Arabic, and more recently also with some oral explanations in Beja (Onour 2015). In addition, Quranic Arabic is taught in Quranic schools to young boys and girls alike.¹

The typological profile that follows is a brief summary of Vanhove (2017). Beja has a rich and complex morphology, flectional and derivational, both in the nominal and verbal domains. It is partly templatic for verb inflection and derivation, noun formation, verb-noun derivation, adjective and plural formation. Beja is also partly agglutinative-fusional. Suffixes and enclitics form the majority of the flectional and derivational devices. Prefixes and proclitics are also used. In all cases, they are often portmanteau morphemes, as e.g. the definite articles.

It is a marked nominative language with four nominal cases, two for the verb core arguments, nominative and accusative, and two for noun phrases, genitive and vocative. The case of core arguments is marked on determiners by vocalic ablaut (or a consonant in one marginal case); the genitive and the vocative are marked by vocalic suffixes on nouns. Pronouns have in addition dative and ablative sets, but no vocative form.

Verbs can be finite or non-finite. Finite forms are organized along a three-term aspectual system. It distinguishes, through flectional morphemes and apophony in the stem, Perfective, Imperfective and Aorist, which index also person, number and gender (only in 2 and 3 sg) of the subject. These verb forms are enriched by auxiliaries or a copula to form other TAM, among them the Perfect. There are two morphological verb classes. V1 contains the majority of verbs (57%), and has prefixed paradigms for monosyllabic stems, and an infix for disyllabic stems (plural indices are suffixes). This is historically the oldest class. V2 verbs have only suffixes, and represent a common Cushitic innovation. There is in addition a rich system of semantic and voice derivation involving ablaut, reduplication and affixal devices (pluractional, intensive, middle, passive, reciprocal, causative, and marginally double causative). The non-finite forms amount to four converbs

¹The sociolinguistic situation described here is that which prevailed before the current war in Sudan between rival armed groups, which broke out in April 2024.

labelled general, sequential, simultaneity and manner. They are invariable, except for the Manner converb, which may vary for gender in specific syntactic environments. The converbs are used in deranked subordinate clauses and as auxiliated forms in complex predicates.

Syntactically, Beja is predominantly head-final; the canonical constituent order is (X)(S)(O)V, and dependent clause – main clause. Constituent order is not particularly rigid and may vary for pragmatic reasons.

The data used for this paper come from semi-spontaneous oral texts that I recorded in Sudan, mainly in Sinkat and Wagar, between 2000 and 2011. Part of them are available online at <http://corporan.huma-num.fr/Archives/>.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

In declarative verbal main clauses aspect is neutralized: the five indicative tenses of declarative utterances, Imperfective, Perfective, Aorist, Perfect and Future are reduced to three in the negative polarity: the Perfective, Aorist and Perfect use the paradigm of the Perfect for the core verb and a negated auxiliary (2). Beja thus exhibits a paradigmatic asymmetry which corresponds to Miestamo (2005) A/Cat/TAM type. In addition, there is also a constructional asymmetry: the Imperfective negative stem and paradigm are based on the Perfective (1b). This is because during the course of the general evolution of the verb system, a new Imperfective paradigm was introduced, which resulted in a dramatic change in the aspectual system: the former Perfective became an Aorist while the former Imperfective became a Perfective.²

Although all three negative forms share the same proclitic negative particle *ki=* (*ka=* in 1SG because of vowel harmony), the position of the negator is different: The negator precedes the verb directly in the Imperfective (1), but it precedes an auxiliary in the Perfective form for the other four TAM: *di* ‘say’ for the Future (3), *ak* ‘become’ for the other three paradigms (2). In the affirmative, the Perfect goes back to a complex predicate with a manner converb and a non-verbal copula. In the negative, the copula is replaced by the verb *ak* ‘become; be’ which hosts the negator. The Future affirmative is also a complex predicate with an auxiliary: The core verb originates from a frozen form of the Aorist (with still a number distinction in the central dialect), followed by the verb *di* ‘say’ in the Imperfective,

² A detailed discussion of this evolution is found in Cohen (1972, 1973).

phonetically reduced. Compare the following examples:³

(1) Imperfective

a. Affirmative

handi wari=b ha<n>ri:w
tree other\PL=INDF.M.ACC seek<IPFV>[3SG.M]
'He looks/is looking for other pieces of wood.'

b. Negative

handi wari=b ki=hariw
tree other\PL=INDF.M.ACC NEG.IPFV=seek\PFV.[3SG]
'He does not look/is not looking for other pieces of wood.'
[NARR_54_AA_gazelle_15-16]⁴

(2) Perfective, Perfect, Aorist

a. Perfective affirmative

lawwa:w-ani
prowl-PFV.1SG
'I prowled around him.'

b. Perfect affirmative

lawwa:w-a:-b-i
prowl-PRF-M-1SG
'I have prowled around him.'

c. Aorist affirmative

lawwa:w-i
prowl-AOR.1SG
'I used to prowl around him.'

d. Perfective/Perfect/Aorist negative

lawwa:w-a:-b ka=a-ki
prowl-PRF-M NEG.IPFV=1SG-become\PFV⁵
'I did not prowl around him' / 'I have not prowled around him' / 'I did

³The transcription follows the IPA except for geminated consonants which are written twice. Africanists and Cushiticists, who are used to other transcription systems, should be aware that *j* transcribes the semi-consonant, not an affricate (noted as *č*).

⁴Examples extracted from my online corpus are referred to by text number (54), genre (NARR), short title (gazelle), and the number of the intonation unit(s) (15-16). Elicited examples have no specific mention.

⁵For the sake of glossing consistency, the enclitic negator *ki=* / *ka=* is systematically glossed as NEG.IPFV, even when occurring in periphrastic tenses that do not express the Imperfective aspect.

not use to prow| around him.’ [NARR_04_djinn_184]

(3) Future

a. Affirmative

jam g^w?a-s-i=ho:k a-<n>di
water drink-CAUS-FUT.SG=OBJ.2SG 1SG-say<IPFV>
‘I will give you water.’

b. Negative

jam g^w?a-s-i=ho:k ka=a-di
water drink-CAUS-FUT.SG=OBJ.2SG NEG.IPFV=1SG-say\PFV
‘I won’t give you water.’ [NARR_39_Bafalib_26]

Beja has no dedicated marker or paradigm for negation of phasal polarity expressions. It may use instead the standard negation, together with adverbs. None of them is obligatory, and they are indeed quite rare in my data.

Three adverbs, *w=?agija* ‘anew’ (4), *fa:wi* ‘again’ (5), and *mhasi* ‘still, again, yet, ever’ may be used in the negative polarity. Only *fa:wi* can be postposed to the verb. Note that *w=?agija* behaves morphologically as a noun and hosts the definite article.

(4) Phasal polarity expression with *w=?agija*

t?a w=?agija i:-bɔan ka=a-di
now DEF.SG.M=anew FUT.SG-forget\INTS NEG.IPFV=1SG-say\PFV
‘Now, I won’t forget him anymore!’ [NARR_13_grave_080]

(5) Phasal polarity expression with *fa:wi*

ani=wa baru:k=wa ki=n-am-da~d?ar
1SG.NOM=COORD 2SG.M.NOM=COORD NEG.IPFV=1PL-RECP-PLAC~marry\PFV
fa:wi
again
‘Me and you, we are not husband and wife anymore.’
[NARR_23_lezard_075–076]

Another type of phasal polarity expression expressed with the standard negation is ‘not yet’, and Beja has no special ‘not yet’ tense. Such a meaning is very rarely overtly expressed in my data. Below (6) is an example with the negative Imperfective followed by the adverb *nu:n* ‘only’.

- (6) ‘Not yet’
 e:ra-m-a:-b winne:t ki=i-ki nu:n
 white-MID-CVB.MNR-INDF.M plenty NEG.IPFV=3SG.M-become\PFV only
 ‘It is not broad day light yet.’ (lit. ‘It is not becoming very white only.’)
 [NARR_05_eritrea_387]

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

2.2.1 Prohibitive

Imperatives have a dedicated negative construction, different from standard negation. The Prohibitive is formed with the negative proclitic particle *ba:=* (2SG.M, 2PL) / *bi:=* (2SG.F). Flectional morphemes are all suffixes, even for the verb class conjugated with prefixes in the indicative (V1). They differ slightly between V1 and V2, and are similar (with one minor difference for V2 2SG.F) to those of the Imperative, as shown in Table 1.

Table 1: Imperative vs Prohibitive

	V1		V2	
	IMP	PROH	IMP	PROH
SG.M	-a	ba:=V1-a	-a	ba:=V2-a
SG.F	-i	bi:=V1-i	-i	bi:=V2-aj
PL	-na	ba:=V1-na	-a:na	ba:=V2-a:na

One further difference between Imperative and Prohibitive concerns the stem of V1 (i.e. the verbal base without flectional morphemes), which is similar to that of the Imperfective for monosyllabic stems, Ci:C, and partly similar to the singular stem of the Imperfective for disyllabic stems, minus the aspectual flectional infix <n>: CaCi:C (vs Ca<n>Ci:C in the Imperfective). The resulting opposition between the Imperative and Prohibitive stems is a difference in vowel length in the stem of V1 verbs: Short in the Imperative, long in the Prohibitive (7). There is thus also a paradigmatic asymmetry between the Imperative and the Prohibitive for V1.

The Prohibitive of V2 belongs to the most common cross-linguistic strategy described by van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev) (2013) as using “the verbal construction of the second singular imperative and a sentential

negative strategy not found in (indicative) declaratives”. On the other hand, V1 Prohibitive belongs to the second next most common strategy where “the prohibitive uses a verbal construction other than the second singular imperative and a sentential negative strategy not found in (indicative) declaratives”.

Below are examples of the Prohibitive for V1 (7) and V2 (8).

(7) V1 Prohibitive

ba:=hari:d-a

NEG.PROH=slaughter-IMP.SG.M

‘Don’t slaughter it!’ [NARR_50_fox_hunt_235]

(cp. Imperative *harid-a* ‘slaughter it!’)

(8) V2 Prohibitive

ti-bari=je:=na

ba:=ra:t-a

2SG.M-have\IPFV=REL=thing NEG.PROH=ask-IMP.SG.M

‘Don’t ask for what you have!’ [NARR_04_djinn_156]

(cp. Imperative *ra:t-a* ‘ask!’)

2.2.2 Negative Optative

Beja has a second mood paradigm, that of the Optative. It is also asymmetrical in terms of polarity. The Optative, affirmative and negative, is marked by the proclitic particle *bi=* (which harmonizes with the 1sg flectional prefix *a-*). For both V1 and V2, the paradigms are different. In the affirmative Optative *bi=* cliticizes to the Aorist paradigms of V1 and V2. In the negative Optative, *bi=* / *ba=* cliticizes to other flectional morphemes. V1 verbs have in addition a different stem. Both V1 and V2 have prefixed personal indices, identical to those of the indicative Perfective of V1. For V2 the stem, which I recall is invariable, is in addition followed by specific suffixes, except 2PL and 3PL, which have the same plural suffixes as the Aorist. The stems of V1 are identical to the Prohibitive stems. Thus, what distinguishes polarities in the Optative is not a negative proclitic as with other TAM, but the stem difference for V1, and the flectional affixes for V2.

Compare Tables 2 and 3, which provide the full paradigms of the Optative, affirmative and negative respectively.

Below are examples of the negative Optative (9–10). Note that the Optative also expresses deontic modalities with 3rd persons, such as ability (11) or obligation (12).

Table 2: Affirmative Optative paradigms

	V2 'eat'	V1 monosyl. 'leave'	V1 disyl. 'arrive'
1SG	<i>bi=tam-i</i>	<i>bi=i:-dif</i>	<i>bi=i:-ktim</i>
2SG.M	<i>bi=tam-tija</i>	<i>bi=ti:-dif-a</i>	<i>bi=ti:-ktim-a</i>
2SG.F	<i>bi=tam-ti:</i>	<i>bi=ti:-dif-i</i>	<i>bi=ti:-ktim-i</i>
3SG.M	<i>bi=tam-i</i>	<i>bi=i:-dif</i>	<i>bi=i:-ktim</i>
3SG.F	<i>bi=tam-ti</i>	<i>bi=ti:-dif</i>	<i>bi=ti:-ktim</i>
1PL	<i>bi=tam-ni</i>	<i>bi=ni:-dif</i>	<i>bi=ni:-ktim</i>
2PL	<i>bi=tam-ti:n(a)</i>	<i>bi=ti:-dif-na</i>	<i>bi=ti:-ktim-na</i>
3PL	<i>bi=tam-i:n(a)</i>	<i>bi=i:-dif-na</i>	<i>bi=i:-ktim-na</i>

Table 3: Negative Optative paradigms

	V2 'eat'	V1 monosyl. 'leave'	V1 disyl. 'arrive'
1SG	<i>ba=a-tam-aj</i>	<i>ba=a-di:f</i>	<i>ba=a-kati:m</i>
2SG.M	<i>bi=t-tam-aja</i>	<i>bi=t-di:f-a</i>	<i>bi=t-kati:m</i>
2SG.F	<i>bi=t-tam-aj</i>	<i>bi=t-di:f-i</i>	<i>bi=t-kati:m</i>
3SG.M	<i>bi=i-tam-aj</i>	<i>bi=i-di:f</i>	<i>bi=i-kati:m</i>
3SG.F	<i>bi=t-tam-aj</i>	<i>bi=t-di:f</i>	<i>bi=i-kati:m</i>
1PL	<i>bi=n-tam-aj</i>	<i>bi=n-di:f</i>	<i>bi=n-kati:m</i>
2PL	<i>bi=t-tam-i:na</i>	<i>bi=t-di:f-na</i>	<i>bi=t-kati:m-na</i>
3PL	<i>bi=i-tam-i:na</i>	<i>bi=i-di:f-na</i>	<i>bi=i-kati:m-na</i>

(9) V2

ti=dir?a han ba=a-faga-am-aj

DEF.F=field also OPT=1SG-work-MID-NEG.OPT

'Let me not work in the field anymore!' [NARR_02_farmer_143]

(cp. affirmative Optative *bi-faga-am-i* 'let me work!')

- (10) V1
 o:n i=k^wi:ri bi=n-hari:d
 PROX.SG.M.ACC DEF.M=ostrich OPT=1PL-slaughter\NEG.OPT
 ‘Let’s not slaughter this ostrich!’ [NARR_38_ostrich_040–041]
 (cp. affirmative Optative *bi-ni:-hrid* ‘let us slaughter!’)
- (11) Deontic ability (V2)
 bani ʔa:dam han bi=i-hass-aj
 son Adam also OPT=3SG.M-pass-NEG.OPT
 ‘A human being could not even pass!’ [NARR_05_eritrea_178]
 (cp. affirmative Optative *bi-hass-i* ‘let him pass!’)
- (12) Deontic obligation (V2)
 harʔi:=si:si bi=t-jʔ-a=he:b⁶
 after=POSS.3SG.ABL OPT=3SG.F-come-NEG.OPT=OBJ.1SG
 ‘She must not come to me from behind it.’ [NARR_05_eritrea_329]
 (cp. affirmative Optative *bi-ʔe:-ti* ‘let her come!’)

2.2.3 Negative questions

Negative questions have the same morphological and constructional properties as standard negation. They are used to force a positive answer in a polemical situation, which is not the case with positive questions. Like in English, they need not be answered positively.

In (13) a rich and proud man is angry because a young boy did not bow in front of him. In (14) two persons are arguing about moral behaviour and rules of honour: One speaker tries to force the other to agree with him, which he does not.

- (13) Negative question with positive reply
 ane:b ki=t-kan=he:b han
 1SG.ACC NEG.IPFV=2SG.M-know\MID.PFV=OBJ.1SG Q.PLR
 ‘Don’t you know ME?’ [NARR_31_king_40]

⁶The final *j* of the negative Optative suffixes of V2 drops before object enclitics.

(15) Equational

a. Affirmative

t=hiku:ma ʔaraw=e:=ja

DEF.F=POWER friend\PL=POSS.1PL.ACC=COP.3PL

‘The policemen are my friends.’ [NARR_08_drunkard_064]

b. Negative

w=ʔara:w=o: ba=a-kaj=e:t

DEF.SG.M=friend=POSS.3SG.ACC OPT=1SG-become\NEG.OPT=REL.F

to:=na ti-kan=he:b

DEF.SG.F.ACC=thing 3SG.F-know\MID.PFV=OBJ.1SG

‘She knew that I was not her boyfriend.’ [NARR_01_shelter_133–137]

(16) Proper inclusion

a. Affirmative

t=ʔano:=t=a

DEF.F=sheep=INDF.F=COP.3PL

‘They are ewes.’ [NARR_02_farmer_119]

b. Negative

tak ka=a-ki

man NEG.IPFV=1SG-become\PFV

‘I am not a man.’ [NARR_25_orphan_263]

(17) Attribution

a. Affirmative

u:=tak ama:g=i

DEF.SG.M.NOM=MAN bad=COP.3SG

‘The man is bad.’ [CONV_01_rich_sp2_049]

b. Negative

ʃawa:j ka=a-ki

free NEG.IPFV=1SG-become\PFV

‘I am not free.’ [NARR_18_Adam_devil_285]

2.3.2 Existential and locative predications

Existential and locative predications are expressed with three locative verbs *faj*, *haj* and *da*: ‘be there’, depending mainly on the dialect and on morphological

HC: @LSP the line in 18a is a slightly bit too long which creates this empty space below, can you fix it somehow?

- 'If there is something that happens to you ...' [CONV 01 rich sp2 216]

- 50

- b. *da*: existential negation
 ittifa:g bi=i-da:-aj=e:t
 agreement OPT=3SG.M-be_there-NEG.OPT=REL.F
 to:=na:=t=i
 DEF.SG.F.ACC=thing=INDF.F=COP.3SG
 ‘There should not be an agreement.’ (lit. ‘The thing is that there is no agreement.’) [CONV_01_rich_sp1_192]

- (21) a. *da*: locative affirmation
 kho:r?arab=wa mari: da:j-i:ni
 Khor_Arab=COORD from_the_direction be_there-IPFV.3SG.M
 ‘It is in the direction of Khor Arab.’ [NARR_03_camel_110]
- b. *da*: locative negation
 mi-rk^waj ho: ka=da-ja nu:n
 ACN-fear 1SG.DAT NEG.IPFV=be_there-PFV.3SG.M only
 i=gin?=i:b
 DEF.M=heart=LOC.SG
 ‘Nevertheless I am not afraid in my heart.’ (lit. ‘fear is not in my heart to me’ = ‘I am courageous.’) [NARR_05_eritrea_220]

2.3.3 Possessive predication

Possessive predication is expressed with a ‘have’ verb, *biri*, which is defective and, like a handful of verbs such as *faj* in §2.3.2, shows traces of the previous aspectual system: It has no Perfective, and the Aorist (historically the former Perfective) is used instead. Consequently, the Imperfective negative, with the same negators as in Sections §2.1 and §2.2.1, is built on the Imperfective paradigm and stem (instead of the Perfective for regular V1 verbs), as shown in (22) below.

- (22) Possession
- a. Affirmative
 n?a:j=t i:-bri tak har?i:=isaj
 goat=INDF.F 3SG.M-have\AOR man after=POSS.3SG.ABL
 ?e:ja
 come\PFV.3SG.M
 ‘A man who had a goat came from behind him.’
 [NARR_28_pear1_21-23]

b. Negative

ahamad i=ragad-a ki=i-bari
Ahmed DEF.M=leg-PL NEG.IPFV=3SG.M-have\IPFV
'Ahmed has no legs.' [NARR_05_eritrea_022]

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In all balanced subordinate clauses with finite verb forms at whatever TAM, be they relative, complement or adverbial clauses, only the non-declarative construction with the negative Optative paradigm can be used, one more case of asymmetry in the polarity system. In contrast, their positive counterparts also license an Indicative TAM. The TAM interpretation of the non-main negative clauses can only be deduced from the context, as shown in (23–26).

(23) Relative clause

na:=t bi=t-kati:m=i mhi:n
thing=INDF.F OPT=3SG.F-arrive\NEG.OPT=REL place
'[The donkey stopped in] a place where nothing (can in general) arrive.'
[NARR_05_eritrea_183]

(24) Complement clause

da:b-i bi=i-di:=je:b hi:s-an
run-FUT.SG OPT=3SG.M-say\NEG.OPT=REL.M think-PFV.1SG
'I thought it would not be able to run.' [NARR_03_camel_153]

(25) Conditional clause

na:=t ho:k bi=i-d?i:-n=e:k
thing=INDF.F 2SG.DAT OPT=3-do\NEG.OPT-PL=if
'If they don't do anything to you [we are going to complain to God.]'
[NARR_08_drunkard_067]

(26) Temporal clause

bi=i-m-tak^wa:k^w-n=ho:b
OPT=3-RECP-repair\INTS.NEG.OPT-PL=when
'[There was a man, and he had a wife, and they did not get along well.]
As they were not getting along well...' [NARR_24_chief_010]

Negation may also occur in one type of deranked subordinate clause, that with

the simultaneity converb.⁸ Used with the Prohibitive negator *ba:=*⁹, the construction with this converb marks the absence of an event, with the scope of negation on the predicate (27–28). The clause gets a privative meaning.

- (27) Privative with scope over predicate

ba:=sina:kir-e: fidin-ti qa:b-e:ti:t
 NEG.PROH=listen-CVB.SIM move_away-CVB.GRL run-CVB.SEQ
 ‘Without paying attention, she runs away and..’
 [NARR_36_hunchback_443]

- (28) Privative with scope over predicate

?ala:l=i:b simha-ti da<nn>?i
 duststorm=LOC.SG get_rid_off-CVB.GRL do<IPFV>.[3SG.M]
 ba:=g^wab-e:
 NEG.PROH=overturn-CVB.SIM
 ‘It makes a whirl of dust without overturning.’
 [NARR_51_camel_stallion_116–117]

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Among the nine semantic domains of negative lexicalizations crosslinguistically attested (Zeshan 2004; Veselinova 2013b), Beja has only one, namely cognition, represented by the cognition verb *gam* ‘ignore, not know’ (29a) which does not also mean ‘neglect, not pay attention to’ which is expressed with other lexical items in idiomatic constructions. Unlike other verbs with negative content, such as ‘forget’ or ‘die’, *gam* cannot be negated. It is itself a negator of the positive verb *kan* ‘know’. *gam* can be used for related cognitive domains, namely absence of understanding (29b) and recognition (29c), and, in a polysemous manner, also for the expression of the incapacity modality (29d).

Note that in (29) *gam* could be replaced by the regular negation of *kan* ‘know’.¹⁰ But Beja has no capacity modal verb (apart from the recent and infrequent loan from Arabic *agdar*) and the cognitive verb *kan* could not be used in a modal sense of capacity instead of *gam* in (29d).

- (29) *gam* ‘not know’

⁸Note that the other three converbs cannot be negated. Negation is formed with balanced subordinate clauses with a verb in negative Optative, another type of asymmetry.

⁹The reasons for the use of the Prohibitive negator with the simultaneity converb are unclear.

¹⁰See (13) for the negation of *kan*.

- a. o:n i=mhe:l=o:
 PROX.SG.M.ACC DEF.M=medicine\ACN=POSS.3SG.ACC
 e:-t-gi:m
 3SG.M-MID-not_know\IPFV
 ‘He does not know the appropriate treatment.’
 [NARR_53_pregnant_man_14]
- b. w=?o:r-i bhali=je:b na:=t
 DEF.SG.M=child-GEN word=LOC.PL thing=INDF.F
 e:-t-gi:m
 3SG.M-MID-not_know\IPFV
 ‘He does not understand anything about the boy’s words.’
 [NARR_31_king_74–75]
- c. i=mhaj ragad-a e:=raw a-gam
 DEF.M=three leg-PL DEF.PL.M.ACC=other\PL 1SG-not_know\MID.PFV
 ‘I did not recognize the other three legs.’ [NARR_27_goat_159]
- d. qa~qib-ti=je:k wari=t hariw-a
 PLAC~fall-ACN=POSS.2PL.ACC other\PL=INDF.F seek-IMP.SG.M
 na:=t te:-t-gi:m=e:k
 thing=INDF.F 2SG.F-MID-not_know\IPFV=if
 ‘Look for another job, if you can’t do anything else!’
 [NARR_04_djinn_162]

Note that non-utterance negation is not lexicalized in Beja, but in addition to several verbs of saying which are regularly negated, there is also an affirmative construction consisting of the noun *his* / *hus* ‘voice’ in a light verb construction with *ak* ‘become, be’ meaning ‘not talk, shut up’ (30).

- (30) Non utterance
 u=ja:s-i=d hus ak-a i-jad-na
 DEF.SG.M.ACC=dog-GEN=DIR voice become-IMP.SG.M 3-say\IPFV-PL
 ‘They tell the dog: Shut up!’ [NARR_18_Adam_devil_221]

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Beja has three ways to form negative replies.

A frequent one in everyday interactions is a dental click for ‘no’. It can be used in replies to negative and affirmative questions, and rarely in reaction to affirmative or negative statements. Its affirmative counterpart is a lateral click. As far as I could observe, they are only used among close relatives and friends, in informal settings.

In narratives, as well as more formal conversations, the most common construction to express negative replies to affirmative and negative polar questions is a verbal strategy, using the full paradigm of the negative Imperfective of *ak* ‘be, become’, which functions in this case as a dummy verb.

The negation with *ak* in reply to a positive polar question disagrees with its contents (31).

(31) Negative reply with *ak* to an affirmative polar question

- a. ti=j?a na:=t ho:j t-ʔif-a k^wi:k^w?aj
 DEF.F=milk thing=INDEF.F ABL.3 2-let\PFV-SG.M crow
 ‘Did you leave some milk from it, Crow?’
 [NARR_16_Prophet_Fox_332–333]
- b. ka=a-ki
 NEG.IPFV=1SG-become\PFV
 ‘No.’ [NARR_16_Prophet_Fox_334]

In replies to negative polar questions, the verbal negation with *ak* agrees with the negative polarity of the question and means ‘no’, as in (32) below. It does not function as a polarity-reversing particle; *awo:* ‘yes’ is used instead.

(32) Negative reply with *ak* to a negative polar question

- a. Ahmed nʔir-a:-b ki=i-ki han
 Ahmed cure-PFV-M NEG.IPFV=3SG.M-become\PFV Q.PLR
 ‘Has not Ahmed healed?’
- b. ki=i-ki
 NEG.IPFV=3SG.M-become\PFV
 ‘No, he has not.’

The third possibility is to use the negative particle *aʔa:* ‘no’. The only examples I have are answers to negative questions, as a sign of disagreement, not as a polarity-reversing particle. In (33), *aʔa:* occurs in a strong polemical context, reinforced by the Arabic loan *abadan* ‘never’.

(33) Negative question with negative reply

- a. w=hagg=o: ho:j i-jaj-n=e:t
 DEF.SG.M=right=POSS.3SG.ACC ABL.3 3-take\IPFV-PL=REL.F
 to:=na ki=t-ti han [...]
 DEF.SG.F.ACC=thing NEG.IPFV=3SG.F-become\PFV Q.PLUR
 ‘Should they not stand for their rights?’ (lit. ‘Is it not that they take
 from him their rights?’) [CONV_01_rich_sp1_214–215]
- b. abadan a?a:
 never no
 ‘Never! No!’ [CONV_01_rich_sp2_249–250]

3.2 Negative indefinites

Beja has no category of indefinite pronouns. For human entities one may use the numeral *ga:l* ‘one’, and its plural form *ga:li* ‘ones’ (34a), in an affirmative utterance. But *ga:l* cannot be used in negative utterances, and the generic noun *na:* ‘thing’ (34c) or *tak* ‘man’ (34b) are used instead, together with a negative predicate.

(34) Animate indefinite

- a. Affirmative
ga:l dha:j jʔ-i
one DIR come-AOR.3SG.M
'Someone was coming towards him.' [NARR_11_coffee_03]
- b. Negative
tak ba=a-sak^whi:
man OPT=1SG-follow\NEG.OPT
'Let me not be followed by anyone!' [NARR_55_tanduuy_114]
- c. Negative
w=ha:j=i:b han na:=t ki=i-ke:-n
DEF.SG.M=land=LOC.SG also thing=INDEF.NEG.IPFV=3-become\PFV-PL
[The people in this country flew away from her.] 'There is even no
one in the country.' (lit. 'They are not a thing:')
[NARR 33 teeth 31-32]

Note that the use of *gal* or *tak* is not obligatory, and a finite verb form can simply be used instead, without an independent subject pronoun as in (35) which is the very beginning of an anecdote.

(35) No overt indefinite

tam-i:ni

eat-IPFV.3SG.M

‘Someone is eating.’ [NARR_07_cold_01]

For indefinite inanimates, and non-human animates as in (36), the generic noun *na*: ‘thing’ is used for the expression of ‘something’ in affirmative utterances and ‘nothing’ with a negative predicate. In accordance with morphological rules of indefiniteness marking, the generic noun bears no indefinite article in subject position (36) – except in relative clauses, see (23) – but does in object position (37).

(36) Inanimate subject

a. Affirmative

ti-jik

na: ti:-fi

3SG.F-hunt\PFV thing 3SG.F-be_there\AOR

‘There was something that hunted it.’ [NARR_05_eritrea_261]

b. Negative

na: dha:j ka=?e:ta

thing DIR NEG.IPFV=come\PFV.3SG.F

‘Nothing came to it.’ [NARR_16_Prophet_Fox_071]

(37) Inanimate object

a. Affirmative

na:=t

he:=ho:n

thing=INDF.F give\IMP.[SG.M]=OBJ.1PL

‘Give us something!’ [NARR_50_fox_hunt_171]

b. Negative

na:=t

ho:k

bi=i-d?i:-n=e:k

thing=INDF.F 2SG.DAT OPT=3-do\NEG.OPT-PL=if

‘If they don’t do anything to you...’ [NARR_08_drunkard_067]

Apart from the Arabic loan *abadan* ‘never’ used as a strong refutation or disapproval to a statement (see (33b) above), Beja uses standard negation or non-declarative negation to express an event that does not occur at any moment.

As for ‘nowhere’, one simply uses the noun *mhi:n* ‘place’ in its indefinite form in a negative utterance (38).

- (38) Nowhere
 lhi:t mhi:n ba:-baj-a
 tomorrow place NEG.PROH-go-IMP.2SG.M
 ‘Tomorrow, you go nowhere!’

3.3 Privative

The absence of an entity is marked by three types of non-clausal constructions. Two of them are different from the ones used for the privative of events (cp. (27–28) §2.4).

The first construction contains the dedicated postposition *anu* ‘without’. It has scope over a noun or an overt pronoun as in (39).

- (39) Scope on (pro)noun with postposition *anu*
 kibir anu a:di tak i-ka
 pride without normal man 3SG.M-become\PFV
 ‘He became a normal man without pride.’ [NARR_31_king_94]

As for the privative of events, it is also possible to use the negative simultaneity converb. For the privative of entities, only the simultaneity converb of *ak* ‘become’ is licensed, placed after a noun or an overt pronoun (40). This construction is rare in my data.

- (40) Scope over noun with negative simultaneity converb of *ak*
 i=nawa=wwa ti=mi:tat=wa ba:=ka:j
 DEF.M=sinew=COORD DEF.F=bone\PL=COORD NEG.PROH=become\CVB.SIM
 ‘Without the sinews and the bones.’ [NARR_41_Emirab_leopard_085]

If the scope is a covert 3rd person pronoun referring to animate or inanimate entities, and if the predicate of the utterance is a motion verb, absence is marked with the general converb of *?if* ‘let’ (41).

- (41) Scope over covert pronoun with motion verb
 ?if-ti gi:g-i:ni
 let-CVB.GRL leave-IPFV.3SG.M
 ‘He leaves without (them).’ [NARR_18_Adam_devil_289]

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

At this stage of research, generalizations about the scope of negation cannot be made.

4.2 Negative polarity

There are no negative polarity item per se in Beja (see §3.2), apart from the recent loan from Arabic *abadan* ‘never’. Prosody does not seem to play a role, but further research is needed.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Case marking on NPs is not affected by the scope of negation.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Ordinary clausal negations are often used rhetorically as understatements (see below §4.6.3). To make clear that a statement is truly negative, and contrasts with an expected event or state, speakers use a complex predicate, only grammaticalized in the Perfective. It is built with a verbo-nominal form of the core verb with the suffix *-at* / *-it*¹¹ and the auxiliary verb *rib* ‘refuse’ (42) (for details, see Hamid Ahmed & Vanhove (2002)).

- (42) *rib* as reinforcing negation
t=?aba=t=i dh=i tʔi-it
DEF.F=wadi=INDF.F=POSS.1SG.NOM DIR=POSS.1SG.ACC resemble-VN
ti-rib
3SG.F-refuse\PFV
‘To me, my wadi did not look like it at all.’ [NARR_05_eritrea_309]

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Beja has no special negative coordinators, no special constructions for contrastive negation of NPs, and no negative conjunction.

¹¹This verbo-nominal form only occurs in some complex predicates. See Vanhove (2017: 141 and 148) for further details.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

Negative transport does not occur in Beja. In complement clauses, whatever the semantic category of the predicate of the main clause, negation only has scope over its host. This means that if the main predicate is negated, the complement clause in the affirmative has an affirmative interpretation (43), and that negative complement clauses are always marked with a negator (44).

- (43) Scope over main predicate

t=ho:j=t=e:b na:jlo:=b hi:s-i=je:k
DEF.F=belly=INDF.F=LOC.PL plastic=INDF.M.ACC think-AOR.1SG=if
ka=a-kan
NEG.IPFV=1SG-know\MID.PFV
'I don't know if I had thought of a plastic bag in its belly.'
[NARR_27_goat_176]

- (44) Scope over complement clause

qa:b-i bi=i-di:=je:b hi:s-an
run-FUT.SG OPT=3SG.M-say\NEG.OPT=REL.M think-PFV.1SG
'I thought it would not be able to run.' [NARR_03_camel_153]

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

At this stage of data collection, I don't know how metalinguistic negation works in Beja, or even if it is at all possible.

4.6.3 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

The data did not provide a single example of expletive negation similar to French *je crains qu'elle ne vienne* 'I am afraid she will come'.

However Beja makes extensive non-negative uses of negative constructions. This is associated with highly positive values, in compliance with Beja social rules of politeness and honour, in order to soften statements and their social or psychological impact (45).

- (45) Negation used as understatement

a. winne:t ho:j qib-a-b ki=i-ki
plenty ABL.3 fall-PRF-M NEG.IPFV=3SG.M-become\PFV
'He is really angry at him.' (lit. 'He has not fallen a lot from him.')
[NARR_38_ostrich_143-144]

- b. *dijar-an=e:k* *ka=a-kan*
be_tired-PFV.1SG=if NEG.IPFV=1SG-know\MID.PFV
 ‘I am really exhausted.’ (lit. ‘I don’t know if I am tired.’)
 [NARR_18_Adam_devil_165]

4.6.4 Diachronic notes and observations

Beja shows no trace of the Jespersen’s & Meillet’s Cycle, nor of the Negative Existential Cycle as described by [Croft \(1991\)](#) and [Veselinova \(2014\)](#).

5 Conclusion

To sum up, the negative system of Beja clearly distinguishes constructions in declarative and non-declarative utterances, and within declaratives and non-declaratives: It has a reduced asymmetrical TAM system and uses different negators. TAM is even more reduced and asymmetrical in non-main clauses, where only the negative Optative or the negative Simultaneity converb occurs, whereas all affirmative declarative verb forms and converbs are possible in balanced and de-ranked clauses respectively.

What is especially noteworthy is the fact that, unlike other tenses, the negative Optative does not use an enclitic negator, but has recourse instead to stem alternation (V1) and specific inflectional morphemes (V2).

Regarding stative predications, Beja shows different polarity systems depending on the type of predication. Possessive predication, expressed with a dedicated possessive verb, has the same negator and construction as standard negation in main and independent clauses, and as non-standard negation in non-main clauses. Negation is asymmetrical for equational, proper inclusion and attributive with the replacement of the copula by a negative ‘be/become’ verb, but there is no difference between permanent and temporary property assignment. For existential and locative predications, which cannot be used as privatives nor as short answers, the asymmetry concerns the restriction on the use of one of the three verbs.

In addition to the basic negative system, Beja has grammaticalized an auxiliated construction to reinforce negation, but only in the Perfective aspect, which is where TAM reduction occurs in ordinary negation. It is possible that social reasons are behind this restriction, since the Perfective aspect is less committing for speakers, and since it is considered as impolite to state loud and clear one’s opinion.

Privatives are marked with four constructions, one clausal and three non-clausal. One of the non-clausal constructions, that with motion verbs, is historically based on clause chaining with a converb denoting abandonment (‘let’). It does not use a negator.

Phasal polarity expressions are rarely overtly expressed and are usually left to contextual interpretation. Nevertheless three adverbs denoting addition or repetition ('also', 'anew', 'again') can be added to negative utterances. One of these adverbials ('only') may be used for the expression of 'not yet', however, it is rarely overtly expressed.

Beja has no indefinite pronouns, but may use either the numeral *ga:l* 'one', the generic noun *na*: 'thing', the noun referring to a male *tak* 'man'. Only the latter two occur in negative utterances.

The language has only one negative lexicalization in the domain of cognition (polysemous with modality) competing with an affirmative verb, and very marginally a non-utterance one based on a light verb construction.

As regards other aspects of negation, Beja does not show negative transport and does not seem to have recourse to expletive negation. On the other hand it makes extensive non-negative uses of negative constructions, up to the point that a reinforcing strategy with an auxiliary verb has been grammaticalized.

Finally, negative replies use different strategies, from a simple dental click, to an adverb meaning 'no', or a dummy negative verb. Their use largely depends on pragmatics.

Table 5 summarizes the various functions of the negators and negative constructions.

Table 5: Negative strategies in Beja

Type		FORM
Clausal negation		
Standard		<i>ki= (/ka=)</i> + verb (IPFV) verb + <i>ki= (/ka=)</i> + <i>ak</i> ‘become’ (PFV, PRF, AOR) verb + <i>ki= (/ka=)</i> + <i>di</i> ‘say’ (FUT)
Non-declarative	Prohibitive	<i>ba:= / bi:=</i> + verb
	Optative	PNG of PFV + V1 stem of PROH PNG of PFV of V1 + V2 + suff. of AOR
	Question	<i>ki= (/ka=)</i> + verb (IPFV) verb + <i>ki= (/ka=)</i> + <i>ak</i> ‘become’ (PFV, PRF, AOR) verb + <i>ki= (/ka=)</i> + <i>di</i> ‘say’ (FUT)
Stative predication	Possession	<i>ki=</i> + <i>biri</i> ‘have’
	Equational, proper inclusion, attributive	verb + <i>ki=</i> + <i>ak</i> ‘become’ or verb + <i>ba:= / bi:=</i> + <i>ak</i> ‘become’
	Existential, locative	<i>ki=</i> or <i>ba:= / bi:=</i> + <i>haj</i> or <i>da:</i> ‘be there’
Non-main clause		Negative Optative in balanced clause; <i>ba:=</i> + CVB.SIM in deranked clause
Negative lexicalization		<i>gam</i> ‘not know’
Privative		non-utterance: <i>his</i> ‘voice’ + <i>ak</i> ‘become’ <i>ba:=</i> + CVB.SIM
Non-clausal		
Reply		dental click, <i>ki=</i> + <i>ak</i> ‘become’, <i>a?a:</i>
Indefinite		<i>tak</i> ‘man’ + negative verb, <i>na:(t)</i> ‘thing’ + negative verb, <i>mhi:n</i> ‘place’ + negative verb
Privative		NP + <i>anu</i> ‘without’, NP + <i>ba:=</i> + CVB.SIM, <i>?if-ti</i> CVB.GRL of ‘let’ + motion verb
Other		
Reinforcing		verb + <i>-at/ -it</i> + <i>rib</i> ‘refuse’

Table 6 provides an overview of the various roles played by the verb *ak* ‘be, become’ (together with a negator) in negative constructions.

Table 6: *ak* ‘be, become’ in negative constructions in Beja

Standard neg.	PFV, PRF, AOR
Interrogative neg.	PFV, PRF, AOR
Stative neg.	equational, proper inclusion, attributive existential locative
Non-clausal	privative
Neg. lexicalization	non-utterance
Negative reply	”no”

Acknowledgements

I gratefully acknowledge the financial support of the LLACAN, the ANR projects CorpAfroAs and CorTypo, and the excellence cluster Labex EFL (Empirical Foundations of Linguistics). My gratitude also goes to my colleagues and consultants in Sudan, in particular Mohamed-Tahir Hamid Ahmed, Ahmed Abdallah Mohamed-Tahir and his family at Sinkat, as well as Yacine Ahmed Hamid and his family in Khartoum. Last but not least, many thanks also to my colleague Yvonne Treis for her very helpful comments and careful reading, to the editors of this volume and to the anonymous reviewers.

Abbreviations

1	first person	MNR	manner
2	second person	ACN	action noun
3	third person	NEG	negation
ABL	ablative	NOM	nominative
ACC	accusative	NP	noun phrase
AOR	Aorist	OBJ	object
CAUS	causative	OPT	Optative;
COORD	coordination	PFV	Perfective
COP	copula	PL	plural
CSL	causal	PLAC	pluractional
CVB	converb	PNG	person, number, gender
DAT	dative	POSS	possessive
DEF	definite	PRF	Perfect
DIR	directional	PROH	Prohibitive
DIST	distal	PROX	proximal
F	feminine;	Q.PLR	polar question
FUT	Future	RECP	reciprocal
GEN	genitive	REL	relative marker
GRL	general	SEQ	sequential
IMP	imperative	SG	singular
INDF	indefinite	SIM	simultaneity
INTS	intensive	TAM	tense, aspect, mood
IPFV	Imperfective	V1	verb class 1
LOC	locative	V2	verb class 2
M	masculine	VN	verbo-nominal
MID	middle		

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Negation in Kambaata

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The Ethiopian language Kambaata (Cushitic) has five distinct negative inflectional suffixes that negate (i) declarative main verbs and non-verbal predicates, (ii) imperatives, (iii) jussives and benedictives, (iv) converbs and (v) relative verbs. Affirmative and negative verb forms do often not match each other in a one-to-one relation, but paradigmatic and constructional asymmetries can be observed. Depending on the verb type, aspectual and modal distinctions are neutralized under negation, the number of different subject indexes is reduced, the distinction between same subject and different subject forms is lost, and changes occur in the morphological makeup of verb forms. Finally, not all affirmative paradigms have dedicated negative counterparts. Most noteworthy from a typological point of view are Kambaata's negative relative verbs. Unlike affirmative relative verbs, which have exclusively verbal morphology, negative relative verbs are almost perfect verb-adjective hybrids with their combination of verbal and adjectival inflection. They index the person, gender, number and honorificity of their subject, and agree in case and gender with their head noun. Apart from inflectional means of negation, Kambaata has a productive caritive derivation *-beel* 'less' that generates adjectives from nouns.

Keywords: Cushitic, inflectional negation, derivational negation, asymmetry, negative participle.

1 Introduction

1.1 The language

The Kambaata language (ISO: **kbt**, Glottocode: **kamb1316**) is spoken by the Kambaata, Xambaaro and Donga people, who are settled around the Hambarrichcho massif in southern Ethiopia, about 300km southwest of the Ethiopian capital Addis Ababa. According to the last published census, Kambaata (endonym: *Kambaatissáta*) has more than 600,000 speakers (**Federal Democratic Republic of Ethiopia Census Commission 2010**: 91), the large majority of whom live in the

Kambaata-Xambaaro Zone of the Southern Nations, Nationalities and Peoples' Region. Kambaata belongs to the Highland East Cushitic branch of the Cushitic family (Afroasiatic phylum). There are possibly slight regional differences in prosody, grammar and lexicon (whose exact nature is still to be explored) across the Kambaata-speaking area, but these do not impact mutual intelligibility. The immediate neighbors of the Kambaata are speakers of other Highland East Cushitic languages (Hadiyya and Alaaba) and Ometo languages of the Omotic family (Wolaitta and Dawro). Amharic, the Ethiopian lingua franca, is the most important second language of Kambaata speakers. Kambaata is used as a medium of instruction in public primary schools and is taught as a subject up to grade 12. In 2018, Wachamo University started a Kambaata language BA program on its Duraame campus. Despite having been taught in schools since 1997, Kambaata remains an overwhelmingly oral language, while Amharic is the written language in private and official contexts. Overall, Kambaata is still linguistically vital. Intergenerational transmission seems stable in rural areas yet threatened in towns. Amharic is dominant in certain communication contexts, such as social media, TV, religious services, political meetings, offices, courts, schools, and parts of the retail and gastronomic industries. Kambaata is more and more being restricted to communication within the family, with friends and neighbors.

The official Kambaata orthography is based on the Roman script (Treis 2008: 73–80; Alemu 2016) and follows the spelling conventions of the Oromo Qubee orthography. The official Kambaata orthography is adopted for all data transcription in this contribution with one important addition: Phonemic stress is marked by an acute accent. The following Kambaata graphemes are not in accordance with IPA conventions: <ph> /p'/, <x> /t'/, <q> /k'/, <j> /dʒ/, <c> /tʃ/, <ch> /tʃ/, <sh> /ʃ/, <y> /j/ and <'> /ʔ/. Geminate consonants and long vowels are marked by doubling the grapheme, e.g. <shsh> /ʃ:/ and <ee> /e:/. Nasalization is marked by a macron, e.g. <ā> /ã/. The data for this paper comes from my recorded corpus of narratives and conversations (marked by the recorded speaker's initials, the date, and the file number or name), my field notes of volunteered or elicited data as well as a corpus of locally published written Kambaata texts.

1.2 General typological profile

Kambaata is agglutinating-fusional and strictly suffixing. Its constituent order is consistently head-final; hence all modifiers precede the noun in the NP, and all dependent clauses precede independent main clauses. The last constituent in a sentence is usually a fully finite main verb or a copula. The following open

word classes are defined on morphosyntactic grounds: nouns, adjectives, verbs, ideophones, and interjections.

Kambaata is a nominative-accusative language. The nominative is the subject case; the accusative marks direct objects and certain adverbial constituents, and also serves as the citation form of nouns and adjectives. Nouns are marked for gender (masculine vs. feminine); the assignment of grammatical gender is mostly arbitrary, with the exception of nouns referring to human beings and higher animals, where it is sex-based. Nouns distinguish nine case forms (nominative, accusative, genitive, dative, ablative, instrumental, locative, oblique, predicative), all of which are marked by a segmental suffix and a specific stress pattern.

Adnominal adjectives, numerals and demonstratives agree with their head noun in case and gender. The case system of adnominals is reduced to three forms, namely nominative, accusative and oblique, with the oblique form marking agreement with non-nominative/non-accusative head nouns.

All verbs, with the exception of verbal nouns, carry simple or bipartite subject indexes, as exemplified by the structures of an affirmative declarative main verb in Figure 1 and a jussive main verb in Figure 2.

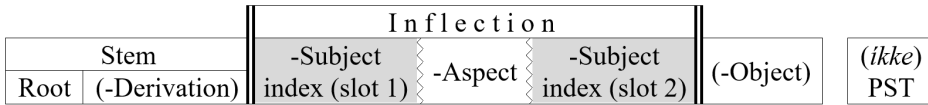


Figure 1: Affirmative declarative main verb with bipartite subject marking

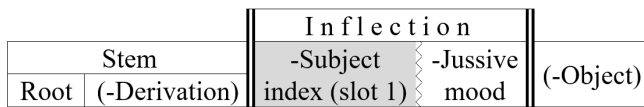


Figure 2: Affirmative jussive main verb with simple subject marking

Verbs inflect for aspect (imperfective, perfective, perfect, progressive), mood (declarative, imperative, jussive, benedictive, apprehensive), polarity (affirmative, negative) and dependency status (main verbs, relative verbs, converbs, purposive verbs); the morphemes realizing these grammatical categories are placed in the slot after the first subject index. Inflectional morphemes tend to fuse into inseparable portmanteau morphemes and are therefore often unsegmented in the examples. Direct and indirect objects can be expressed by suffixed pronouns at the right edge of the inflected verb. The use of these pronominal object suffixes

is partly pragmatically determined and depends on the referential prominence of the object. If a declarative verb is marked for past tense, the free morpheme *ikke* is the last element of the verbal complex (Figure 1). Derivational morphemes (passive, causative and middle morphemes, or combinations of these) are found between root and inflection. The inflectional potential of dependent clause verbs is less rich than that of main verb forms: certain person/gender and aspectual distinctions are neutralized, they cannot be marked for mood, and only some of them allow for object suffixes.

Ideophones and interjections are morphologically invariant. Interjections constitute utterances of their own. Ideophones are integrated into the clause through light verbs, *y-* ‘say’ or *ih-* ‘be(come)’ in intransitive clauses and *a’- ~ ass-* ‘do’ in transitive clauses.

1.3 Earlier research on negation

Borelli’s linguistic data appendix (1890: 463–482) is the earliest published source on the Kambaata language. Though the section on negative verbs remains empty in his questionnaire, there are five negative verb forms in his list of common phrases (*phrases usuelles*), e.g. the negated imperfective *ossaamba* [ossa’áamba’a] ‘I don’t sleep’, the negated non-imperfective *amé timba* [ameetimbá’a] ‘I did not go, have not gone, am not going’, and the negated imperative *agoti* [ág-gooti] ‘don’t drink’.¹ Leslau (1952) gives the first coherent presentation of negative paradigms. Some relevant examples in Korhonen et al. (1986: 90–108) demonstrate slight morphological differences in the non-imperfective negation of Kambaata (proper) and Xambaaro as well as the closely related language Alaaba. As far as more recent publications are concerned, Treis (2012a) is a detailed discussion of the negation of relative verbs, Treis (2012c: 86–90) deals with negative converbs, and Treis (2012b) analyzes clausal negation in Kambaata from a comparative Highland East Cushitic perspective.

2 Clausal negation

As in many languages in the world, the affirmative and negative verb forms and paradigms do not neatly match each other in a one-to-one relation. Rather, paradigmatic and constructional asymmetries (Miestamo 2013) can be observed: Not all affirmative paradigms have dedicated negative counterparts, aspectual and modal distinctions may be neutralized under negation, and negation may

¹English translations mine.

trigger changes in the morphological makeup of verb forms. Kambaata has five inflectional negation suffixes (Table 1), which will be treated in the following subsections (§2.1–§2.4). Negative morphemes are always located after the subject indexes and aspectual morphology, and before tense marking; their position relative to mood and object marking depends on the type of verb they combine with. Information on the order of morphemes will be given in the respective sections below.

Table 1: Inflectional negation morphemes

<i>-ba('a)</i>	NEG	Declarative main verbs, existential verb <i>yoo-</i> , non-verbal predicates
<i>'-oot</i>	NEG.IMP	Imperatives
<i>'-ka</i>	NEG.JUSS	Jussives
<i>-u'nnáachch</i>	NEG.CVB	Converbs
<i>-umb</i>	NEG.REL	Relative verbs

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation is marked with the suffix *-ba('a)* (NEG). Two declarative negative constructions need to be kept apart in the following presentation: negative imperfective and negative non-imperfective. As shown in Table 2 and Table 3, affirmative declarative main verbs distinguish four aspectual categories: imperfective, perfective, perfect and progressive, all of which are marked by an aspect morpheme (printed in bold in the tables) wedged between the bipartite subject index.² Under negation, the aspectual distinctions are reduced to two: imperfective (1) vs. non-imperfective (1).

²Illustrations of the use of affirmative declarative main verbs are found in the following examples: The last verb of (1) is an imperfective main verb, the reporting clause of (5) contains a perfective main verb, the last verb of (25) is a perfect main verb, and the last verb of (19) is marked for the progressive.

- (1) Af-óon áff-ee waas-á it-áno-ba'a,
 mouth-M.LOC seize-3M.PRF.REL enset.food-M.ACC eat-3M.IPFV-NEG
 tú=y-í agúrr=ke'éechch waal-áno.
 spit.IDEO=say-[3M.]PFV.CVB³ leave.[3M.]PFV.CVB=SEQ come-3M.IPFV
 (Somebody hears about the death of a loved one.) 'He does not swallow
 (lit. eat) the food that he has in his mouth, he spits it out (and) then
 comes (to the house of the deceased).' (Recorded conversation,
 EK2016-02-23_003)

Author: Is this
 wide distance
 between the ex-
 amples correct?

HC: @LSP?

- (2) Hikkanneení-i teesuuhá-a bajig-g-im-bá'a.
 PRO.MED.M.ICP-ADD again-ADD be(come).happy-3F-NIPFV-NEG
 'Even with this, she was still not happy.' (Recorded conversation,
 TD2016-02-11_001)

In the imperfective aspect, the affirmative and negative paradigms are largely symmetrical (Table 2); they only differ in the presence of the standard negator.⁴ In contrast, we observe the following paradigmatic and constructional asymmetries in negative non-imperfective verbs (Table 3): (i) the second subject slot of the affirmative counterpart is dropped under negation, which leads to a reduction of the number of distinct subject indexes from seven to five, with 1SG=3M and 2SG=3F/PL; (ii) a dedicated aspect morpheme, the non-imperfective suffix *-im*,⁵ is used in the negative but not in any affirmative verb paradigm; (iii) the palatalization and gemination of stem-final consonants in certain 1SG and 3M affirmative verb forms is absent in the domain of negation; and (iv) the stress pattern of the negative non-imperfective paradigm is unlike the patterns of its affirmative counterpart.

³Subject indexes that are realized as $\emptyset$ are glossed in [square brackets] in the examples.

⁴Ignoring certain morphophonological changes triggered by the standard negator.

⁵In the Xambaaro-variant of Kambaata, the corresponding aspect marker is *-um* (Korhonen et al. 1986: 101).

Table 2: Negation of the imperfective

	Affirmative Imperfective ^a	Negative Imperfective ^b
1SG	-Ø- áa - <i>m(m)</i> -(OBJ)	-Ø- áa - <i>m</i> -(OBJ)- <i>ba'a</i>
2SG	- <i>t-áa</i> - <i>nt(i)</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>t-áa</i> - <i>nti</i> -(OBJ)- <i>ba'a</i>
3M	-Ø- á - <i>no</i> -(OBJ)	-Ø- á - <i>no</i> -(OBJ)- <i>ba'a</i>
3F/PL	- <i>t-áa</i> -(<i>'u</i>)-(OBJ)	- <i>t-áa</i> -(OBJ)- <i>ba'a</i>
3HON	- <i>éen</i> -Ø- <i>no</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>éen</i> -Ø- <i>no</i> -(OBJ)- <i>ba'a</i>
1PL	- <i>n-áa</i> - <i>m(m)</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>n-áa</i> - <i>m</i> -(OBJ)- <i>ba'a</i>
2PL/HON	- <i>teen-á</i> - <i>nta</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>teen-á</i> - <i>nta</i> -(OBJ)- <i>ba'a</i>

^aMorpheme order: subject index 1, aspect (in bold), subject index 2 and (optional) object.^bMorpheme order: subject index 1, aspect (in bold), subject index 2, (optional) object and negator. In this and in all following tables, the negator is given in gray.^cElements in round brackets are added or left out depending on what follows.

Table 3: Negation of non-imperfective aspects

		Affirmative ^a Perfective	Affirmative Perfect	Affirmative Progressive	Negative ^b Non-imperfective
1SG ^c	[-C _{PAL/GEM} :] [-CC:]	-Ø- óo - <i>m(m)</i> -(OBJ) -Ø- ée - <i>m(m)</i> -(OBJ)	'-Ø- ee - <i>m(m)</i> -(OBJ) -Ø- ée - <i>m(m)</i> -(OBJ)	-Ø- áyyoo - <i>m(m)</i> -(OBJ)	-Ø- im - bá('a) -(OBJ)
2SG		- <i>t-óo</i> - <i>nt(i)</i> -(OBJ)	'- <i>t-ee</i> - <i>nt(i)</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>t-áyyoo</i> - <i>nt(i)</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>t-im</i> - bá('a) -(OBJ)
3M	[-C _{PAL/GEM} :] [-CC:]	'-Ø- o -(OBJ) -Ø- ée -('u)-(OBJ)	'-Ø- ee -('u)-(OBJ) -Ø- ée -('u)-(OBJ)	-Ø- áyyoo -('u)-(OBJ)	-Ø- im - bá('a) -(OBJ)
3F/PL		- <i>t-óo</i> -('u)-(OBJ)	'- <i>t-ee</i> -('u)-(OBJ)	- <i>t-áyyoo</i> -('u)-(OBJ)	- <i>t-im</i> - bá('a) -(OBJ)
3HON		- <i>éem</i> -Ø- <i>ma</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>éem</i> -Ø- <i>maa</i> ('u)-(OBJ)	- <i>een-áyyoo</i> - <i>mma</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>een-im</i> - bá('a) -(OBJ)
1PL		- <i>n-óo</i> - <i>m(m)</i> -(OBJ)	'- <i>n-ee</i> - <i>m(m)</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>n-áyyoo</i> - <i>m(m)</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>n-im</i> - bá('a) -(OBJ)
2PL/HON		- <i>téen</i> -Ø- <i>nta</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>téen</i> -Ø- <i>ntaa</i> ('u)-(OBJ)	- <i>teen-áyyoo</i> - <i>nta</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>teen-im</i> - bá('a) -(OBJ)

^aMorpheme order: subject index 1, aspect (in bold), subject index 2 and (optional) object.^bMorpheme order: subject index 1, aspect (in bold), negator (in gray) and (optional) object.^cIn the perfective and perfect paradigms (but not in the progressive and negative paradigm), the realization of the 1SG and 3M forms depends on whether the verb stem ends in a single consonant (C) or cluster (CC). The 1SG and 3M perfective and perfect forms of verb stems ending in a consonant cluster (CC) seem identical, but they can be shown to follow different stress rules under relativization.

If one compares the two declarative negative paradigms in Table 2 and Table 3 with each other, differences in the relative position of the object morpheme (OBJ) and the negator become apparent: The negator follows the object suffix in the imperfective (2) but precedes it in the non-imperfective (3).

- (3) (...) *isso'óot kaa'll-itáa xa'mm-úta hór-a-n*
 3PL.NOM help-3F.IPFV.REL question-F.ACC all-F.OBL-EMPH
xa'mm-itáa-'nne-ba'a.
 ask-3F.IPFV-2PL.OBJ-NEG
 '(...) they never ask you any useful questions.'⁶ (Saint-Exupéry 2018: 19)
- (4) (...) *teesuuhá-a hikkuuní-i duus-im-bá-se.*
 again-ADD PRO.MED.M.NOM-ADD satisfy-[3M.]NIPFV-NEG-3F.OBJ
 '(But) this still did not satisfy her either.' (Recorded conversation,
 TD2016-02-11_001)

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Main verbs in non-declarative sentences are marked for imperative, jussive/benedictive or apprehensive mood. Imperatives and jussives/benedictives have dedicated negation strategies. The apprehensive, a paradigm of main verb forms expressing warnings and threats (Treis forthcoming), has no corresponding negative paradigm.

2.2.1 Negation of imperatives

Affirmative imperatives are the simplest verb forms in Kambaata, as they lack the expected first subject index slot. Under negation (Table 4), however, the subject indexes 2SG *-t* and 2PL/HON *-teen* do occur.⁷ After the subject slot follows the imperative negator *'-oot* (NEG.IMP) – which is realized palatalized and geminate (*'-oochch*) in the plural –, the respective singular (5) or plural (6) imperative morpheme, and, if present, an object suffix.⁸

⁶Examples from Saint-Exupéry (2018) are translated literally from the Kambaata version.

⁷As in other verb forms, the subject indexes of the first slot undergo regular morphophonological changes (Treis 2008: 60–72).

⁸In the Xambaaro-variant of Kambaata, the negative 2PL imperfective form is *-tóon-oochch-e* (Korhonen et al. 1986: 99).

Table 4: Affirmative and negative imperative endings

	Affirmative imperative V-IMP-(OBJ)	Negative imperative V-SBJ ₁ -NEG.IMP-IMP-(OBJ)
2SG	'-i-(OBJ)	'-t-oot-i-(OBJ)
2PL/HON	[-C _{PAL/GEM} :] -é-(OBJ)	-téen-oochch-e-(OBJ)
	[-CC:] -iyyé-(OBJ)	~ -téen-oochch-iyye-(OBJ)

- (5) “Bux-ichch-í min-í aag-ís-s-oot-e-’e”
 poor-SGV-M.GEN house-M.ACC enter-CAUS-2SG-NEG.IMP-2SG.IMP-1SG.OBJ
 y-ée’u buur-í hoof-íchch-u.
 say-3M.PFV butter-M.GEN wrapping.material-SGV-M.NOM
 “Don’t make me enter a poor man’s house!” said the butter wrapping.
 (Proverb, *Alamu & Alamaayyo* 2017: 33⁹)
- (6) Mikk-míll=y-itéen-oochch-e.
 move-move.IDEO=say-2PL-NEG.IMP-2PL.IMP
 (Police to robbers:) ‘Don’t you (PL) move!’ (Volunteered¹⁰ 2016)

For information on the apprehensive, whose second person form is in many contexts considered functionally equivalent to the negative imperative, see §4.6.1.

Kambaata has a handful of indexical imperative-only verbs (Table 5), which can neither be negated nor be inflected in a non-imperative mood. The entirely invariant directive interjections, of which Kambaata has several dozen (Table 6), cannot be negated either.

⁹I have segmented, glossed and translated examples from published sources and added stress marks.

¹⁰Examples that are labelled “volunteered” were either provided by consultants as further illustrations during the transcription and translation of recorded texts, or they originate from illustrative dialogues dictated to me by native speakers. Volunteered examples do not originate from translation elicitation.

Table 5: Imperative-only verbs

2SG	2PL/HON	Translation
<i>ám-i</i>	<i>amm-é</i>	‘Come (to me for an instant)!’
<i>ī</i>	<i>i-yyé</i>	‘Take (what I have in my hands)!’
<i>mée</i>	<i>mee-yyé</i>	‘Give (me what you have in your hands)!’
<i>ashshám-i</i>	<i>ashshamm-é</i>	‘Hang in there!’ (Greeting to people working)
<i>kárag-i</i>	<i>káragg-e</i>	‘Listen up!’
<i>híkkarag-i</i>	<i>híkkaragg-e</i>	‘Listen up!’

Table 6: Some examples of directive interjections

Interjection	Translation
<i>ná''a</i>	(to children:) ‘Eat!’
<i>gá''a</i>	(to children:) ‘Drink!’
<i>sá</i>	‘Shush!’
<i>hág</i>	(to donkeys:) ‘Keep going, go away!’
<i>kút</i>	(to chicken:) ‘Go away!’
<i>háa</i>	(to cattle:) ‘Stay calm!’
<i>hirká</i>	(to cattle:) ‘Go into the pen!’
<i>sú</i>	(to dogs:) ‘Catch!’

2.2.2 Negation of jussives and benedictives

The jussive is used for first and third person directives and expresses what should or may be done (Table 7). The first person singular jussive is predominantly used in questions, e.g. *ág-u* ‘May I come in?’. Whereas the imperative (§2.2.1) can be used to bless and curse second persons, e.g. *lé'-oot-i át* (grow-[2SG.])¹¹NEG.IMP-2SG.IMP 2SG.NOM) ‘Don’t (you) grow!’, blessings and curses of first and third persons are expressed by a dedicated verb form, the benedictive (7).

- (7) *Magán-u áass-u.*
 God-M.NOM give-[3M.]BDV
 ‘May God give (to you in return)!’ (i.e. ‘Thank you.’) (Blessing, overheard)

¹¹The 2SG subject index *-t* is predictably omitted after a glottal stop.

Table 7: Affirmative and negative jussive/benedictive endings

	Affirmative Jussive	Affirmative Benedictive ^a	Negative Jussive/Benedictive
1SG	-Ø-ó ~ ' -Ø- <i>u</i> -(OBJ)	-Ø-ó	-Ø-ún- ka -(OBJ)
3M	' -Ø- <i>un</i> -(OBJ)	' -Ø- <i>u</i> -(OBJ)	-Ø-ún- ka -(OBJ)
3F/PL	' - <i>t-un</i> -(OBJ)	' - <i>t-u</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>t-ún</i> - ka -(OBJ)
3HON	-éen- <i>un</i> -(OBJ)	-éen- <i>u</i>	-éen-ún- ka -(OBJ)
1PL	- <i>n-ó</i> ~ ' - <i>n-u</i> ~ ' - <i>n-un</i> -(OBJ)	(n.a.)	- <i>n-ún</i> - ka -(OBJ)

^aOnly two benedictive forms with object pronouns are attested in my database.

Under negation (Table 7), the distinction between jussive and benedictive is neutralized. The morpheme ' -*ka* (NEG.JUSS) is the negator of both verb types; it follows the subject index and mood morpheme *-un* and precedes the object suffix (8).

- (8) Lankaann-í híil-u, land-í kotím-u,
 paternal.uncle-M.GEN bad-M.NOM leather.dress-M.GEN short-M.NOM
 Laadd-í gíd-u gambá=y-ún-ka-he!
 PN-M.GEN cold-M.NOM encounter.IDEO=say-[3M.]JUSS-NEG.JUSS-2SG.OBJ
 'May a bad uncle, a skimpy leather dress, (and) the cold of Laadda (= windy place) not catch up with you!' (Blessing, *Alamu & Alamaayyo* 2017: 101)

As Table 7 shows, the negative jussive/benedictive is almost entirely based on the affirmative jussive (with the exception of the 1SG form). However, the addition of the jussive negator triggers a shift of stress from the stem to the mood morpheme.

2.2.3 Negation of questions

Negated polar questions are built on negative declarative main clauses. They are marked by the interrogative suffix *-ndo*; see the negated non-verbal and verbal predicates in (7) and (10), respectively. The speaker suspects the answer to their question to be affirmative and asks the addressee to confirm this expectation. Negative questions are also seen in (32) and (35).

- (9) Hikkúun qaláall-a-a xáh-a-ba-ndo?
 PRO.PROX.M.NOM easy[Amh.]-M.PRED-M.COP.ASC issue-M.PRED-NEG-Q
 ‘Isn’t this an easy problem?’ (Recorded conversation, EK2016-02-12_003)
- (10) Cii’-áta sharr-itaantí=g-a ik-k-im-bá-ndo?
 birds-F.ACC chase-2SG.IPFV.REL=SIMV-M.OBL be(come)-2SG-NIPFV-NEG-Q
 ‘Haven’t you reached the bird-chasing stage (yet)?’ (lit. ‘Haven’t you become like you chase birds?’) (Recorded conversation, EK2016-02-23_001)

For information on the use of negative questions for strongly assertive statements, see §4.6.3.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

The standard negator *-ba(’a)* (NEG) (§2.1) is used with all types of non-verbal predicates, irrespective of whether the predicate expresses equation (9), proper inclusion (10),¹² attribution (13), location (14) or possession (15), and irrespective of the type of copula used. The following examples illustrate the use of the non-verbal copulas *-ha(a)/-ta(a)* (M/F.COP.ASC) and *-Vt* (COP.ID); for information on their intricate distribution, see Treis (2008: 397–436).

- (11) Isú agud-áyyoo[’u] bagáan (.) íso-oti-ba’a.
 3M.ACC resemble-3M.PROG CNTR 3M.NOM-COP.ID-NEG
 ‘He resembles him, but it’s not him.’ (John 9: 9; lit. translation from the Kambaata version) (The Bible Society of Ethiopia 2023)
- (12) Od-éet asúss-a-ta-ba’a.
 tree.sp-F.NOM seedling-F.PRED-F.COP.ASC-NEG
 (Speaker correcting interlocutor’s word choice:) ‘Sycamore fig trees are not (i.e. do not qualify as) “seedlings”.’ (Saint-Exupéry 2018: 21)

- (13) “Húj-it hór-a<n>t baréed-a-ta”
 work-F.NOM all-F.NOM<EMPH> good-F.PRED-F.COP.ASC
 y-aanó-na “Hór-a<n>t húj-it
 say-3M.IPFV.REL-COORD all-F.NOM<EMPH> work-F.NOM

¹²See also (57).

HC: @LSP: the colon does not print [in the source of (13)]. I tried it as cite[7.102]KEB1989 as well as now citeKEB1989: 7.102, none of them work. Can you fix this? It occurs 8 times with this source throughout the chapter.

baréed-a-ta-ba'a" y-aanó boq-ó xaw-í
 good-F.PRED-F.COP.ASC-NEG say-3M.IPFV.REL head-F.GEN topic-M.GEN
 al-éen (...) lámuanne beeh-an-téen oodamm-iyyé.
 top-M.LOC in.two.groups divide-PASS-2PL.PFV.CVB discuss-2PL.IMP
 'Split into two groups and discuss the hypotheses "All (kinds of) work are
 respectable (lit. good)" and "Not all (kinds of) work are respectable (lit. all
 work is not good)"!' (Kambaata Education Bureau 1989 E.C. 7.102)

- (14) (...) kook-í láal-ut re'-aa'i-ihu
 peach-M.GEN fruit-F.NOM be(come).edible-3F.IPFV.REL-NMLZ.M.NOM
 haqq-í al-éene-et bagáan (.) giir-áane-eb-ba'a.
 tree-M.GEN top-M.LOC-COP.ID CNTR fire-F.LOC-COP.ID-NEG
 'It is on the tree and not on the fire that a peach becomes edible.'¹³
 (Kambaata Education Bureau 1989 E.C. 4.49)

- (15) Tí maccoo-teenantá láag-a<n>t ées
 ADN.PROX.F.NOM hear-2PL.IPFV.REL word-F.NOM<EMPH> 1SG.ACC
 sokk-ó Ánn-i-ta bagáan (.)
 send-3M.PFV.REL father-M.GEN-F.COP.ASC CNTR
 ii-taa-ba'a.
 1SG.GEN-F.COP.ASC-NEG
 'The word which you hear is the Father's who sent me but not mine.'
 (John 14: 24; lit. translation from the Kambaata version) (The Bible
 Society of Ethiopia 2023)

The negator is found at the right edge of the non-verbal predicate. It is preceded by the copula (10–15) or, if the copula is realized as zero or has shifted to a modifier,¹⁴ it directly follows the predicative or other case suffix (16).

- (16) (...) hittiin íi-taa lúus-a-ba'a.
 PRO.MED.F.NOM 1SG.GEN-F.COP.ASC fault-F.PRED-NEG
 'This is not my fault.' (Saint-Exupéry 2018: 12)

¹³The Kambaata verb *re'*- is polysemous and can mean 'ripen' and 'be cooked, become done'.

¹⁴As explained in see Treis (2008: 414–420), the copula *-ha(a)/-ta(a)* (M/F.COP.ASC) is mobile and its position depends on the internal syntax of the nominal predicate. If the predicate is modified by an adjective, genitive noun or relative clause, it shifts to the modifier, see (16). If the modifier of the nominal predicate is a numeral or a demonstrative, the copula is zero. Kambaata's other identificational-attributinal copula, *-Vt* (COP.ID), is not mobile.

The standard negator is also used for the negation of the defective verb *yoo-* (COP.EX) ‘exist, be (located), be (for a possessor)’, which is used in existential (17), locative-presentative (18) and possessive (17) predication. In possessive constructions, the negator follows the object suffix referring to the possessor (17).

- (17) Arráb-i-se ful-táa=b-eechch-u
 tongue-F.NOM-3F.POSS come.out-3F.IPFV.REL=PLC-SGV-M.NOM
 yóo-ba’a.
 COP.EX.3-NEG
 ‘There was no place for her tongue to come out.’ (lit. ‘A place at which her tongue comes out does not exist.’) (Recorded conversation, TD2016-02-11_001)
- (18) Hall-eechch-óon lám-it gár-it yóo-ba’a.
 shade-SGV-F.LOC two-F.NOM truth-F.NOM COP.EX.3-NEG
 ‘There are no two truths in the shade (i.e. the elders under a shady tree always work out the (one) truth and pass a judgment).’ (Proverb, *Alamu & Alamaayyo 2017*: 71)
- (19) A: Qenéf-u me’-íqqi-a bár-i?
 birth.ceremony-M.NOM how.many-ORD-M.COP.ASC day-M.PRED
 ‘The *qenefa*-ceremony is (on) which (lit. the how-many-eth) day?’
 B: Bár-u yóo-si-ba’a, isíi.
 day-M.NOM COP.EX.3-3M.OBJ-NEG 3M.DAT
 ‘It doesn’t have a (fixed) day.’ (lit. ‘A day is not for him (= *qenefa* m.).’) (Recorded conversation, EK2016-02-23_002)

All negative examples presented in this section differ from their affirmative counterparts only in the presence of the negator, which is most evident in (13). So, at first sight, the negation of stative predications does not seem to differ from standard negation (§2.1). However, §2.4.2 shows that negated existential predicates do not follow the relativization strategy of other verbal predicates.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In complex sentences only the last verb is usually a fully finite main clause verb (or a copula),¹⁵ while verbs in preceding clauses are either based on converbs,

¹⁵Exceptions to this rule are sentences with coordinated final main verbs and with non-final main verbs in embedded reported speech. Furthermore, contrastive clauses with *bagáan* ‘but’

relative verbs, purposive verbs or verbal nouns. Negation strategies in non-main clauses differ significantly from those in main clauses (§2.1–§2.3): A dedicated negative converb is used for converb clauses (§2.4.1), a negative participle for relative and purposive clauses (§2.4.2, §2.4.3), and a periphrastic strategy for the negation of verbal nouns (§2.4.4).

2.4.1 Negation of converb clauses

Kambaata makes a distinction between perfective (general) and imperfective (explicitly simultaneous) converbs; both affirmative converb types are obligatorily marked for switch-reference (-*yan* DS)¹⁶ if the subject changes between the converb and the superordinate clause (Treis 2012c). In the converb paradigms, five persons are distinguished (in contrast to main verbs, which distinguish seven) (Table 8). Perfective converbs consist essentially of a verb stem and the first subject index; in addition, the 1SG/3M form is marked by the palatalization and gemination of single stem-final consonants or – after stem-final clusters – by a stressed vowel suffix -*í*. Imperfective converbs consist of a verb stem, the indexes of the first subject index slot and an ending -*án*. The parentheses in the top half of Table 8 indicate that affirmative converbs can only receive object suffixes in their different subject form.¹⁷

Converbs are negated with a dedicated converb negator, which is realized by three allomorphs in free variation: -*u’nnáachch* (18), -*u’nnáan* (19) or -*ú’нна* (20) (NEG.CVB) (for reasons of space only the first allomorph is given in Table 8 and Table 1). The converb negator is positioned after the subject index. Under negation, the distinction between imperfective and perfective converbs is neutralized. Negative converbs are not sensitive to and, consequently, not marked for switch-reference. They take object morphemes either as suffixes or infixes (18) to the converb negator.¹⁸ Negative converb clauses express events posterior to the event in the superordinate clause (‘before VERB-ing’) or the absence of accompanying events (‘without VERB-ing’).

(§4.5) and the apodosis of hypothetical and counterfactual conditional clauses contain main verb forms.

¹⁶In (20), for instance, the switch from a 1PL to a 2SG subject is marked by the DS marker on the imperfective converb.

¹⁷An exception is that same subject converbs may be used as final verbs in questions; in this function, they can carry object suffixes.

¹⁸The first allomorph, -*u’nnáachch*, takes object infixes or suffixes (Table 8); the second allomorph, -*u’nnáan*, takes only suffixes. On the third allomorph, -*ú’нна*, the object can be realized as a suffix, even though this is rarely attested in my database and not accepted by all speakers.

Table 8: Affirmative and negative converb endings

	Perfective converb (PFV.CVB)	Imperfective converb (IPFV.CVB)
1SG/3M	[-C _{PAL/GEM} :] ' -Ø-(DS-(OBJ)) [-CC:] Ø-í-(DS-(OBJ))	-Ø-án-(DS-(OBJ))
2SG/3F/3PL	' -t-(DS-(OBJ))	-t-án-(DS-(OBJ))
3HON	-éen-(DS-(OBJ))	-een-án-(DS-(OBJ))
1PL	' -n-(DS-(OBJ))	-n-án-(DS-(OBJ))
2PL/HON	-téen-(DS-(OBJ))	-teen-án-(DS-(OBJ))
Negative converb (NEG.CVB)		
1SG/3M	-Ø- <i>u'nnáachch</i> (<OBJ> or -OBJ)	
2SG/3F/3PL	-t- <i>u'nnáachch</i> (<OBJ> or -OBJ)	
3HON	-een- <i>u'nnáachch</i> (<OBJ> or -OBJ)	
1PL	-n- <i>u'nnáachch</i> (<OBJ> or -OBJ)	
2PL/HON	-teen- <i>u'nnáachch</i> (<OBJ> or -OBJ)	

- (20) (...) mexx-uhú-u kaa'll-u'nna<'ée>chch
 single-M.NOM-ADD help-[3M.]NEG.CVB<1SG.OBJ>
 (= kaa'll-u'nnaachchi-'e) dág-u has-ishsh-o-'e.
 = help-[3M.]NEG.CVB-1SG.OBJ know-M.NOM want-CAUS-3M.PFV-1SG.OBJ
 '(...) I was obliged to find (a solution) without anybody helping me.'
 (Saint-Exupéry 2018: 22)

The negative converb is also used in two complex verb forms: (i) in combination with the defective verb *yoo-* (COP.EX) ‘exist’ (19), it expresses ‘not yet’ (see Treis 2021 for details), (ii) in combination with the verb *fa-* ‘remain’ (20), it serves as a periphrasis for a morphologically negated verb.¹⁹ The semantic difference between a morphologically and periphrastically negated verb is not yet clear and remains to be investigated.²⁰

¹⁹See also (28).

²⁰Deginet Wotango Doyiso (personal communication) tends to translate the periphrastic construction with *fa*- as ‘not have the occasion to VERB, miss the opportunity to VERB’. Banti (2010: 62, 64–65) shows that the combination of a negative converb plus a negated superordinate verb ‘remain’ expresses a strong assertion (‘certainly VERB’ = ‘not remain un-VERB-ing’) in the Lowland East Cushitic languages Saho and Afar.

- (21) (...) sú'mm-u-s xáll-u ba'-u'nnáan yóo
 name-M.NOM-DEF only-M.NOM be.lost-[3M.]NEG.CVB COP.EX.3
 bagáan (.) húj-i-s (...) tees-ó qalanch-áan
 CNTR work-F.NOM-DEF now-F.GEN generation-F.LOC
 fa'-án hab-an-t-án waal-táyyoo'u.
 remain-[3F.]IPFV.CVB forget-PASS-3F-IPFV.CVB come-3F.PROG
 (Speaking about the customs on the *masaala*-holiday:) '(...) only the
 names (of these customs) are not yet lost, but (...) the work is being
 forgotten in the young generation.' (Volunteered 2003)
- (22) Kank-áta j-eechch-úta barg-ám-m
 that.much-F.ACC time-SGV-F.ACC add-PASS-1PL.PFV.CVB
 he'-nn-áni-yan káan dag-g-ú'nná
 live-1PL-IPFV.CVB-DS PRO.PROX.M.ACC know-2SG-NEG.CVB
 fa'-oontí-ihu²¹ íi luus-áane-et.
 remain-2SG.PFV.REL-NMLZ.M.NOM 1SG.GEN mistake-F.ICP-COP.ID
 'It is my fault (lit. by my fault) that you have not learned (lit. known) this
 in the whole time that we have been living together.' (Saint-Exupéry 2018:
 34)

2.4.2 Negation of relative clauses

Affirmative relative verbs are based on declarative main verbs and differ from them, as far as the segmental realization is concerned, only minimally – note only that if the inflectional complex ends in -'u (see e.g. -*táa*-'u 3F.IPFV in Table 2) this element is dropped. There are regular stress differences between perfective and imperfective main vs. relative verbs; in contrast, the stress pattern is identical for perfect and progressive main and relative forms (see Treis 2012a for details). Relativization is ubiquitous in Kambaata. Many subordinate clauses – e.g. temporal (63), causal, conditional (25), concessive, similitive (10) – are relative-based. Cleft sentences are a common focusing device; here, the focused information is expressed in a non-verbal predicate, the backgrounded information in a headless relative clause (20). While affirmative relative verbs – like declarative main verbs – distinguish between four aspectual values (imperfective (2), perfective (64), perfect (21), progressive), these values are neutralized under negation. The relative

²¹The morphologically negated verb equivalent of *daggú'nná fa'oontíhu* in (20) would be *dag-g-umb-úu* (know-2SG-NEG.REL-NMLZ.M.NOM).

negator is *-umb* (NEG.REL) and its position in the verb is illustrated in Figure 3. Note the absence of an aspect morpheme.

		Verbal Inflection		Adjectival inflection	
Stem		-Subject index (slot 1)	-umb	Case/Gender	(-Object)
Root	(-Derivation)				

Figure 3: The structure of negative relative verbs

Unlike affirmative relative verbs, which only have verbal morphology, negative relative verbs are almost perfect verb-adjective hybrids with their combination of verbal and adjectival morphemes (Treis 2012a, 2017). They index the person, gender, number and honorificity of their subject, and agree in case and gender with their head noun. The case/gender inflection is shown in Table 9.

Table 9: Endings of negative participles (= negative relative verbs)

	-M.ACC	-M.NOM	-M.OBL
1SG/3M	-Ø- <i>umb</i> -ú	-Ø- <i>úmb</i> -u	-Ø- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -Ø- <i>úmb</i> -ua
2SG/3F/3PL	-t- <i>umb</i> -ú	-t- <i>úmb</i> -u	-t- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -t- <i>úmb</i> -ua
3HON	-een- <i>umb</i> -ú	-een- <i>úmb</i> -u	-een- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -een- <i>úmb</i> -ua
1PL	-n- <i>umb</i> -ú	-n- <i>úmb</i> -u	-n- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -n- <i>úmb</i> -ua
2PL/HON	-teen- <i>umb</i> -ú	-teen- <i>úmb</i> -u	-teen- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -teen- <i>úmb</i> -ua
	-F.ACC	-F.NOM	-F.OBL
1SG/3M	-Ø- <i>umb</i> -úta	-Ø- <i>úmb</i> -ut	-Ø- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -Ø- <i>úmb</i> -uta
2SG/3F/3PL	-t- <i>umb</i> -úta	-t- <i>úmb</i> -ut	-t- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -t- <i>úmb</i> -uta
3HON	-een- <i>umb</i> -úta	-een- <i>úmb</i> -ut	-een- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -een- <i>úmb</i> -uta
1PL	-n- <i>umb</i> -úta	-n- <i>úmb</i> -ut	-n- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -n- <i>úmb</i> -uta
2PL/HON	-teen- <i>umb</i> -úta	-teen- <i>úmb</i> -ut	-teen- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -teen- <i>úmb</i> -uta

In (21), the nominative head noun is modified by a numeral and two juxtaposed relative modifiers; the first relative clause ends in a negative participle, the second in an affirmative relative verb. The negative participle agrees in nominative case and feminine gender with the head noun; it is indexed for an honorific/impersonal subject. The affirmative relative verb does not agree with the head noun;

it is indexed for a third person masculine subject (referring to the unexpressed stimulus of confusion), marked for perfect aspect and carries an object suffix (referring to the target of confusion, i.e. the grammatically feminine beetle).

- (23) [[mát-it] [hann-óochch waal-tóo-ndo dag-een-úmb-ut]_{Relative 1}
 one-F.NOM where-F.ABL come-3F.PFV-Q know-3HON-NEG.REL-F.NOM
 [zahh-ée-se]_{Relative 2} boomb-éechch-ut]_{Head noun (...)}
 confuse-[3M.]PRF-3F.OBJ.REL beetle.sp-SGV-F.NOM
 yaaran-áta gaffár-ti-yan (...)
 loud.sound-F.ACC release-3F.PFV.CVB-DS
 ‘(...) when a confused beetle (F), which came from goodness knows
 where, released a loud noise (lit. when a beetle, (of) which one does/did
 not know where she came from and which (something) had confused,
 released a loud noise) and (...)’ (Saint-Exupéry 2018: 45–46)

In (22), the locative noun *hixéen* ‘over grass’ is modified by a negative participle, which agrees with it in feminine gender and case – note that the oblique case of modifiers shows agreement with non-nominative/accusative head nouns. As the head noun is coreferent with the subject of the participle clause in this particular example, the 3F subject index of the participle also points to the grass.

- (24) [[Kaa’ll-it-úmb-o-ssa]_{RELATIVE CLAUSE MODIFIER} hix-éen]_{HEAD NOUN}
 help-3F-NEG.REL-F.OBL-3PL.OBJ grass-F.LOC
 ba’án-t goof-fóo’u.
 quarrel(.PASS)-3F.PFV.CVB finish-3F.PFV
 ‘They²² quarreled over grass that had no use for them.’ (i.e. It was a
 needless fight.) (Volunteered 2019)

Example (22) shows that negative participles, like affirmative relative verbs (21), can carry object morphology, which in this case is *-ssa* ‘them’ (3PL.OBJ). Interestingly, the (verbal) object morphemes are located at the right edge of the participle, still after the adjectival case/gender morphology.

Only a single verb follows a different negative relative strategy: The defective existential verb *yoo-* (COP.EX) ‘exist, be (located), be (for a possessor)’ (§2.3) uses the standard negator *-ba(’a)* in relative clauses. The negator is realized as *-ba’í* in its relative form (25).

- (25) Mateemínn-it yoo-ba’í=dda shooll-uhá-a
 shortage.of.manpower-M.NOM COP.EX.3-NEG.REL=COND four-M.ACC-ADD

iill-itáa'u.

reach-3F.IPFV

'If there is no shortage of manpower, she (= the young mother) is confined (indoors) for as long as (lit. she reaches) four (months).'

(Recorded conversation, EK2016-02_23_002)

2.4.3 Negation of purposive clauses

Kambaata has two purposive paradigms, i.e. dependent verb forms used in purpose and certain complement clauses and marked for switch-reference (Treis 2010). The verb forms in *-óta* are used in same subject contexts, e.g. *hab-óta* (forget-[3M.]PURP.SS) 'so that he (= ss) forgets'; the verb forms in *'-unta* in different subject contexts, e.g. *bá'-unta* (spoil-[3M.]PURP.DS) 'so that he (= DS) is spoilt'. There is no negative purposive paradigm. Instead negative purpose clauses are based on negative relative clauses (§2.4.2) plus the similitive marker =g 'manner; like' (see Treis 2017 on the multifunctionality of =g). The distinction between ss and DS purposive is neutralized under negation; see (26–25), where the same verb form is used in same and different subject contexts.

- (26) “(...)” y-ée'u qakk-íchch-u láah-u, barg-í
 say-3M.PFV small-SGV-M.NOM prince-M.NOM add-[3M.]PFV.CVB
 zákk-o ká xah-á
 later-M.OBL ADN.PROX.M.ACC words-M.ACC
 hab-úmb-o=g-a.
 forget-[3M.]NEG.REL-M.OBL=SIMV-M.OBL
 “(...)”, said the Little Prince again so that he (= ss) wouldn't forget these
 words later.' (Saint-Exupéry 2018: 74)

- (27) Zuug-gaa-sí=r-u boq-o-ssá múumm-u
 scrape-3F.IPFV-DEF.REL=NMLZ-M.NOM head-F.GEN-3PL.POSS hair-M.NOM
 hoog-óon ba'-úmb-o=g-a
 enset.juice-F.ICP spoil-[3M.]NEG.CVB-M.OBL=SIMV-M.OBL
 shom-úta wo'rr-ítée'u.
 type.of.headgear-F.ACC put.on.MID-3F.PRF
 (Description of a picture:) 'Those of them who are scraping (the enset
 sheaths) are wearing headgear (made from enset leaves) so that their hair
 (= DS) is not damaged by the (acidic) enset juice.' (Volunteered 2003)

2.4.4 Negation of verbal noun clauses

Verbal nouns consist of a verbal stem plus a case/gender marker -ú (M.ACC) in the citation form, e.g. *ta'mm-ú* 'using' (26), and inflect like any other noun (Treis 2012a). They may function as arguments and as adverbial constituents, and are used, among other things, as final verbs in purpose, manner and complement clauses. Verbal nouns cannot be negated morphologically but require a periphrastic negation with *hoog-* 'not do'. The negative verb takes the verbal noun as a direct object (26).

- (28) Mát-e Kambaat-iss-á laag-á goof-óon i-hé
 one-F.OBL Kambaata-GLOT-F.GEN word-F.GEN end-M.LOC i-F.GEN
 tá'mm-u-hu-u ta'mm-ú **hoog**-u-hu-u
 use-M.NOM-ADD use-M.ACC **not.do**-M.NOM-ADD
 good-am-anó-ohu láag-a-s
 decide-PASS-3M.IPFV.REL-NMLZ.M.NOM word-F.NOM-3M.POSS
 anabbab-[an-táa=g-iine-et].
 read-PASS-3F.IPFV.REL=SIMV-M.ICP-COP.ID
 'The use of "i" (lit. using and not using "i") at the end of a Kambaata word is determined by the way it is pronounced (lit. read).' (Maatewoos 1992: 16 [corrected by Deginet Wotango Doyiso])

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

The use of the inherently negative verb *hoog-* 'not do; miss, lack, not have; be tired' as periphrastic negator has already been exemplified in (26). Alemu (2022) makes ample use of the verb in his monolingual definitions of idiomatic expressions (27–28); note that verbal head entries of his dictionary are given in their accusative verbal noun form.

- (29) wozán-u saqal-am-ú = fooloocc-ú **hoog**-ú.
 heart-M.NOM hang-PASS-M.ACC rest-M.ACC **not.do**-M.ACC
 [Entry] 'of heart, to be hung' = [Definition] 'not to rest' (Alemu 2022)

- (30) godáb-u mool-ú = il-áta hinát-e-n
 belly-M.NOM be(come).dry-M.ACC progeny-F.ACC totality-M.OBL-EMPH
 il-ée'nna²³ fa'-ú; il-ú **hoog-ú.**
 give.birth-3HON.NEG.CVB remain-M.ACC give.birth-M.ACC **not.do**-M.ACC
 [Entry] '(of) belly, to be(come) dry' = [Definition] 'to never have (lit. to remain totally without bearing) children; not to bear (children)' (Alemu 2022)

See §4.6.3 for information on the use of the converb form of *hoog*- 'not do' as a disjunctive.

Kambaata's second inherently negative verb, *waayy*- 'probably not do', is often used in its perfective converb form as an adverbial modifier to another verb (31). However, my fieldwork corpus also shows instances of main verb use (30), if it is clear from the context what probably does not happen. Note that the following examples contain no morphological negators.

- (31) Kabár xeená ubb-ó=da ba'-nn-óta-at!
 today.M.OBL rain-M.ACC fall-3M.PFV.REL=COND be.lost-1PL-PURP.SS-COP.ID
 Ati-sí-i daanxil-á **waayy-ít**
 2SG.NOM-DEF-ADD umbrella-M.ACC **probably.not.do**-2SG.PFV.CVB
 af-fáant.
 seize-2F.IPFV
 'We are going to be in trouble (lit. lost) if it rains today. You probably don't have an umbrella with you either.' (Volunteered 2019)
- (32) Kám, **waayy-áno.**
 oh.no **probably.not.do**-3M.IPFV
 (A states that Duuballa is not as rich as Handiso. B, however, thinks that they are equally rich. He replies:) 'Come on, this is probably not (true).'
 (Volunteered 2014)

Kambaata does not have a lexicalized negative verb 'not exist'. Among Highland East Cushitic languages, negative existential verbs are only attested in Hadiyya and Libido (Treis 2012b: 32).

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Positive questions are answered positively with *ǎǎ* ‘yes’ or, as seen in (33), negatively with *ā’ā’ā* ‘no’.

- (33) A: *Át núr Ameerík-a-a*
 2SG.NOM last.year.M.OBL PN-M.PRED-M.COP.ASC
mar-toontí-ihu?
 go-2SG.PFV.REL-NMLZ.M.NOM
 ‘Did you go to America last year?’
 B: *Ā’ā’ā, Jermán-a-a.*
 no PN-M.PRED-M.COP.ASC
 ‘No, to Germany.’ (Elicited 2019)

The negative interjection *ā’ā’ā* ‘no’ is not attested as a polarity-reversing particle in reply to a negative question. Interestingly, the positive interjection *ǎǎ* ‘yes’ is found both in replies that confirm (32) or disconfirm negative questions (35). In (32), *ǎǎ* ‘yes’ signals agreement with the (negative) polarity of the question. In (35), in contrast, it signals agreement with the speaker’s implicit assumption of the negative question (§2.2.3), namely that the addressee can see the people on the horizon.

- (34) A: *Shariif-á dag-gáanti-ba-ndo?*
 PN-M.ACC know-2SG.IPFV-NEG-Q
 ‘Don’t you know Shariifa (= a place)?’
 B: *Āā, án waayy-í márr*
 yes 1SG.NOM probably.not.do-[1SG.]PFV.CVB go.[1SG.]PFV.CVB
kas-áamm.
 do.ever-1SG.IPFV
 ‘No (lit. yes), (I don’t know it,) I have probably never been there.’
 (Volunteered 2019)
- (35) A: *Kóo, (...) ká’e qée’rr-a*
 2M.VOC PRO.CNTR.M.OBL far-M.OBL
lall-it-im-bá-he-ndo?
 occur-3F-NIPFV-NEG-2SG.OBJ-Q
 ‘Hey, (...) can’t you see them (lit. don’t they occur to you) far over there?’

Author: @LSP: Accent to be placed a bit higher on *ǎ*. Search and replace everywhere

HC: @LSP: The accent on ‘yes’ is displayed incorrectly, it should occur above the macron (see also 35 and a few others, search *Ā*)

B: *Āā*, *híkkada xíshsh=á'-nn* *maram-moommí=da*
 yes then strongly.IDEO=do-1PL.PFV.CVB walk-1PL.PFV.REL=COND
iill-ináan-sa.
 reach-1PL.IPFV-3PL.OBJ
 'Yes, (I can see them,) so we can (still) catch up with them if we walk
 fast (lit. strongly).' (Volunteered 2016)

A frequent negative reply to questions in natural conversation is *kám* ‘oh no, come on, far from it, forget it, don’t worry’. The word class categorization of *kám* is difficult. It originates from the 2SG imperative form *kám[i]*²⁴ of the full verb *kam-* ‘hold back, not give, forbid, remove, protect from, deprive of’, the corresponding 2PL form being *kammé*. As a negative reply, however, *kám* is no longer sensitive to the addressee’s number, so the singular imperative could be said to have fossilized into an invariant interjection. *Kám* is used to disconfirm or, better still, to refute, positive questions (36) and the implicit assumption in negative questions, e.g. the assumption in (37) that the addressee has just eaten. *Kám* can also signal disagreement with a previous statement; recall (30).

- (36) A: Mat-e-'ée uull-áta Sabir-óochch ker-á
 one-F.GEN-ASSOC.F.GEN land-F.ACC PN-M.ABL lease-M.ACC
 aphph-íti-ndo, núr?
 take.MID-2F.PFV.CVB-Q last.year.M.OBL
 'Did you lease one of Sabiro's (plots of) land last year?'
 B: Kóo kám, m-á aphph-áammi-la?
 2M.VOC oh.no what-M.ACC take.MID-1SG.IPFV-MIT
 'Far from it! I did not take anything at all (lit. what do I take?).'
 (Volunteered 2015)
- (37) A: Téma abb-am-a-kkí=b-aan hooshsh-ú
 now great-mother-F.GEN-2SG.POSS=PLC-M.LOC lunch-M.ACC
 ít-t ke'-im-bá-ndo?
 eat-2SG.PFV.CVB do.completely-[2F.]NIPFV-NEG-Q
 (Mother (A) sees that her son (B) is serving himself in the kitchen.)
 'Haven't you just eaten lunch at your grandma's place?'

²⁴The bracketed vowel of the imperative is not pronounced word-finally but resurfaces when other morphemes are added.

- B: **Kám**, it-im-bá-be, m-á it-áammi-la,
oh.no eat-[1SG.]NIPFV-NEG-PRAG what-M.ACC eat-1SG.IPF V-MIT
 it-íi ih-een-áni-yan Shaaméeb-i
 eat-M.DAT be(come)-3HON-IPFV.CVB-DS PN-M.NOM
 sókk-i-ya'nne mar-im-bá-ndo?
 send-[3M.]PFV.CVB-DS<1SG.OBJ> go-[1SG.]NIPFV-NEG-Q
 'Far from it! I haven't eaten (anything). I haven't eaten anything at all
 (lit. what do I eat?). Didn't I (have to) go (where) Shaameebo sent me
 when (people) were just about to eat?' (Volunteered 2019)

Examples (36–37) demonstrate another common Kambaata strategy for giving negative replies, namely by means of a rhetorical question of the type 'What do(es) SBJ VERB?', with VERB being a copy of the verb used in the preceding sentence.

Finally, instead of using 'yes', 'no', or 'far from it!' as answers, speakers also often simply repeat the final verb of the question (in the same or opposite polarity) to (dis)confirm a question (38).

- (38) A: (...) agan-áan agan-áan mám-maté áa'll-u
 month-M.LOC month-M.LOC RED-one-MULT wash-M.NOM
 ih-áno-ba-ndo?
 be(come).enough-3M.IPFV-NEG-Q
 'Isn't it enough to wash once a month?'
 B: Ih-áno-ba'a.
 be(come).enough-3M.IPFV-NEG
 'No.' (lit. 'It isn't enough.') (Kambaata Education Bureau 1989 E.C. 4.118)

For another type of negative reply, see (50).

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Kambaata does not have any inherently negative indefinites. If interrogative pronouns are combined with the additive suffix ('also, even'),²⁵ they can serve as free-choice indefinite pronouns ('WH-ever', 'any-WH') in affirmative contexts

²⁵Dependent on the quality of the final vowel and the stress pattern of the host, the additive suffix is either realized as a lengthening of the final vowel or as *-nii*.

and be translated as negative indefinite pronouns under negation (‘nobody’, ‘nothing’, ‘nowhere’, ‘never’, etc.) (Treis 2015); see the additive-marked interrogative phrases in (39–40).²⁶

- (39) Fanqashsh-ú-s ay-í-i dag-áno-ba’a.
 answer-M.ACC-DEF **who-M.NOM-ADD** know-3M.IPFV-NEG
 ‘Nobody (lit. even who) knows the answer.’ (Elicited 2019)
- (40) (...) háтта j-aatá-a méxx-o min-í
 which.F.ACC time-F.ACC-ADD single-M.OBL house-M.GEN
 aaz-éen gag-á iitt-uhú-u gar-ití-i
 interior-M.LOC self-M.ACC love-M.NOM-ADD truth-F.NOM-ADD
 hanqaphph-án-t he’-íiha dand-itáa-ba’a.
 embrace.MID-PASS-3F.PFV.CVB live-M.DAT be.able-3F.IPFV-NEG
 ‘(...) self-love and truth (i.e. selfishness and justice) can never live
 together in one and the same house (lit. cannot live together even (at)
 what time).’ (Kambaata Education Bureau 1989 E.C. 6.124)

Alternatively, additive-marked noun phrases with *mexx-ú* (M)/*mexx-íta* (F) ‘single’, used either as the head or the modifier of the phrase, express ‘nothing’, ‘nobody’, ‘no N’ etc. under negation; see (18) and (41). See also the noun phrase *mexx-e-níi* (single-MULT-ADD), literally ‘also/even a single time’, which would express ‘never’ under a negative predicate.

- (41) (...) ká heess-á méxx-o man-ch-iihá-a
 ADN.PROX.M.ACC story-M.ACC **single-M.OBL** people-SGV-M.DAT-ADD
 ku’ll-im-bá’a.
 tell.MID-[1SG.]NIPFV-NEG
 ‘(...) I have not told this story to anybody (lit. to even a single person).’
 (Saint-Exupéry 2018: 91)

3.3 Negative derivation

Kambaata has a caritive derivational morpheme *-beel*, which generates denominal adjectives with the meaning ‘[N]-less, [not having] N’. It either attaches to

²⁶As predicted by the semantic map in Haspelmath (1997: 64), who was pointed out to me by an anonymous reviewer, Kambaata’s additive interrogative pronouns are also used in indirect negation (e.g. ‘I don’t think that anyone (lit. even who) knows the answer’) and in comparatives (e.g. ‘She knows about it more than anyone (lit. than even who)’).

the nominal stem or the genitive form and is followed by the case and gender markers -ú (M)/-úta (F) in the citation form (accusative). Treis (2008: 277) has too hastily characterized the caritive derivation as “seldom used”,²⁷ whereas Alemu’s (2016) dictionary shows that it is in fact fairly productively applicable – at least in a certain genre, namely written texts (including the schoolbooks) (42).²⁸

- | | | | | | |
|------|------------------------|----------------------------|---|----------------|-------------|
| (42) | <i>bonx-beel-ú(ta)</i> | ‘leafless, without leaves’ | < | <i>bonx-á</i> | ‘leave(s)’ |
| | <i>muum-beel-ú(ta)</i> | ‘hairless, without hair’ | < | <i>muumm-í</i> | ‘hair’ |
| | <i>seer-beel-ú(ta)</i> | ‘illegal, without rules’ | < | <i>seer-á</i> | ‘rule, law’ |

The use of the caritive derivation in speech remains little attested, and clausal constructions of the type ‘which does not have N’ are clearly preferred. Furthermore, most caritive adjectives attested in my written corpus are best considered semantically transparent adhoc creations and the result of the generalization of a hitherto only weakly productive derivational schema. Examples of caritives that are not adhoc creations but widely shared across the speech community are given in (43). Note that many of these established caritives are lexically idiosyncratic derivations.

- | | | | | | |
|------|---|--|---|---------------------|--------------------|
| (43) | <i>wol-beel-ú(ta)</i> | ‘countless’ | < | <i>woll-úta</i> | ‘counting, number’ |
| | <i>wozan-beel-ú(ta)</i> | ‘forgetful’
(lit. heartless) | < | <i>wozan-á</i> | ‘heart’ |
| | <i>su’mm-beel-é²⁹</i> | ‘first week of July’
(lit. nameless) | < | <i>su’mm-á</i> | ‘name’ |
| | <i>maq-ee-beel-úta</i> | ‘pregnant’
(lit. powerless) | < | <i>maq-ée F.GEN</i> | ‘of power’ |
| | <i>hagar-beel-ú(ta)</i> | ‘indescribable,
uncategorizable, ugly’
(lit. without type) | < | <i>hagar-á</i> | ‘type’ |
| | <i>man-beel-(ch)³⁰-ú(ta)</i> | ‘foreign, without
relatives in the area’
(lit. without people) | < | <i>mann-á</i> | ‘people’ |

Kambaata does not have an adposition or a case marker expressing ‘without’. Hence absence is expressed in a negative converb clause or a circumstantial relative clause as ‘not having seized N’ (44) or as ‘N not being present’.

²⁷In Treis (2008), the label “privative” rather than “caritive” is used for the derivation with *-beel*.

²⁸Alemu (2016) alone contains 128 different caritive adjectives, most of which are used in the monolingual definitions.

²⁹The case/gender-morpheme *-é* is the accusative morpheme of the largest declension of feminine proper nouns (Treis 2008: 103).

³⁰The *-ch*-morpheme marks the singulative.

- (44) Meqqéerr-at úull-a úb-b huur-á
 afterbirth-F.NOM ground-F.OBL fall-3F.PFV.CVB dirt-M.ACC
 af-f-ú'nná ke'-áa-ba'a.
 seize-3F-NEG.CVB get.up-[3F.]IPFV-NEG
 'When the afterbirth falls to the ground, it does not get up without dirt
 (lit. without having seized dirt).' (Proverb, *Alamu & Alamaayyo 2017*: 113)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

The negation of a final main or relative verb generally has scope over a preceding same subject general converb – e.g. *beeqq-am-éen* in (45).

- (45) (...) nugguss-áan-ch-u he'-áni-yan maal-á
 circumcise-AGT-SGV-M.NOM live-[3M.]IPFV.CVB-DS meat-M.ACC
 beeqq-am-éen it-éenno-ba'a.
 share.MID-PASS-3HON.PFV.CVB eat-3HON.IPFV-NEG
 '(...) if there is a (newly) circumcised (boy in the household), one (does not) share the meat among (the family members) and does not eat it (together).' (Recorded conversation, EK2016-02-23_001)

The scope of negation is often narrowed down to a specific constituent (an NP, a clause etc.) through a cleft construction (46); see also (66). The focussed constituent is the non-verbal predicate (marked by a copula), which is negated by *-ba('a)* (NEG); the backgrounded part of the sentence is expressed in a headless, nominative-marked relative clause.

- (46) Lag-áakk-at kaa'll-ittaa'i-i(hu) maranch-áa
 river-PLV-F.NOM be.used-3F.IPfV.REL-NMLZ.M.NOM transport-F.DAT
 xall-íiha-ab-ba'a.
 only-M.DAT-COP.ID-NEG
 'The rivers are not only used for the transport (of goods).' (lit. 'It is not only for the transport that the rivers are used.')
- (*Kambaata Education Bureau 1989 E.C.* 3.54)

Whereas all the examples presented so far in this chapter show that the inflectional negators are affixed to the predicate, an ellipsis construction from a recorded conversation and elicited data triggered by this natural example prove

that the standard negator can also directly attach to (pro)noun phrases in order to restrict the scope of negation (47).³¹

- (47) Antab-eechch-úta min-í aag-ís-i, gamball-áb-ba'a,
chicken-SGV-F.ACC house-M.ACC enter-CAUS-2SG.IMP black-F.ACC-NEG
wojj-úta!
white-F.ACC
'Bring the hen into the house; not the black one, the white one!' (Elicited
2019)

4.2 Negative polarity

The additive-marked indefinite pronouns discussed in §3.2 can count as negative polarity items, as they cannot be used in affirmative, non-free choice contexts, e.g. in reference to specific individuals, as in *Someone was looking for you*.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Case marking (§1.2) is not affected under negation. Other effects that negation may have on the marking of NPs, e.g. the possible interaction between negation and the use of various pragmatically determined focus and attitude morphemes, have not yet been examined and would make an interesting subject for future research.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Negation is reinforced by the adverbials *hór-a(-n)* (48) or *hór-a-nii* (49), which are oblique case forms of the adjective *hor-á* (M)/*hor-áta* (F) 'all'. The bracketed *-n* is a focus morpheme (EMPH) whose functional range is yet to be investigated; *-nii* is an allomorph of the additive morpheme. The adverbials are used in positive contexts to express 'all, completely'; under a negative verb, they are translatable as 'not at all, really not, definitely not, never'. Alternatively, the synonymous *hinát-e-n* (totality-M.OBL-EMPH) 'at all' can be used (28).

³¹As pointed out to me by an anonymous reviewer, languages are often more liberal in the placement of negative markers in ellipsis constructions than in independent clauses, e.g. *I invited John but not Bill* vs. **I invited not Bill*.

- (48) **Hór-a-n** dag-g-im-bá'a (...). **Hór-a** **hór-a**
all-M.OBL-EMPH know-2SG-NIPFV-NEG **all-M.OBL all-M.OBL**
 dag-g-im-bá'a.
 know-2SG-NIPFV-NEG
 (One player to another in a riddling session:) 'You have no clue (...), so so wrong!' (lit. 'You don't know at all, at all!') (Recorded conversation, TH2003-06-04_xinkuta)

- (49) **Aat-teenantá=r-u** **hór-a-nii**
 give-2PL.IPFV.REL=NMLZ-M.NOM **all-M.OBL-ADD**
 kot-ún-ka-'nne.
 lack-[3M.]JUSS-NEG.JUSS-2PL.OBJ
 'May you never/not at all lack the means to give (food, support etc. to people)!' (Blessing on the *masaala*-holiday, Volunteered 2003)

There is one context in which the adverbial *hór-a-nii* is attested as inherently negative, namely as a one-word answer to a question (50).

- (50) A: Hoosáan-u Halaab-íichch qée'rr-a-a-ndo?
 PN-M.NOM PN-M.ABL far-M.PRED-M.COP.ASC-Q
 'Is Hosaina more distant than Halaaba?'
 B: **Hór-a-nii!**
all-M.OBL-ADD
 'Not at all!' (Volunteered 2015)

A negated verb can also be reinforced through a verbal noun copy, as in (51). The verbal noun is marked for the accusative case, which does probably not mark it as a direct object in this particular example but rather as an adverbial adjunct (§1.2).³²

- (51) (...) etar-íin-ta-s yóo Sabir-ó **dag-ú<n>ka**
 behind-M.ICP-LNK-3M.POSS COP.EX.3.REL PN-M.ACC **notice-M.ACC**
dag-im-bá'a.
notice-[3M.]IPFV-NEG
 '(...) it (= the leopard) did not at all notice Sabiro (lit. did not notice noticing Sabiro), who was standing behind it.' (Kambaata Education Bureau 1989 E.C. 8.23)

³²Even intransitive verbs can take verbal noun copies, which suggests that the latter is not a direct object.

Kambaata's third strategy to reinforce a negative clause is through an experiential perfect construction (Treis 2021: 327–331), which expresses 'have (n)ever (once) VERB-ed' (52). The construction consists of a perfective converb plus a phonologically independent, non-inflecting element *kása* 'ever', or plus an inflected verb *kas-* 'do ever'. The converb and the adjacent 'ever' constitute a periphrastic verb form that cannot be separated by an intervening constituent.

- (52) Hitt gaararéem-at kará xúud-d
 ADN.PROX.F.NOM chameleon-F.NOM PRO.PROX.M.PL.ACC see-3F.PFV.CVB
kása-ba'a.
ever-NEG
 'The chameleon had never seen these (animals).' (Recorded conversation, TD2016-02-11_001)

The positive construction is predominantly used in questions ('Has SBJ ever VERB-ed?'), as in the first part of (53); it is rarely attested in declarative clauses, where it stresses that SBJ has as only VERB-ed once, as in the second part of (53).

- (53) A: Ajjoor-í faam-á xúud-d **kása?**
 PN-M.GEN waterfalls-M.ACC see-2F.PFV.CVB **ever**
 'Have you ever seen the Ajjoora falls?'
 B: Āā, xúujj **kása.**
 yes see.[1SG.]PFV.CVB **ever**
 'Yes, I have seen them (only) once.' (Volunteered 2021)

The negative construction is most common in declarative clauses ('SBJ has never/not once VERB-ed') (52). The time in which the subject never VERB-ed is usually the span of their existence ('never (in SBJ's life time)') (52), but may also be a period from a given starting point onward, e.g. the time when the addressee in (54) promised to call.

- (54) Mexx-é dawwal-tóont, dawwal-áamm y-ít
 single-MULT call-2SG.PFV call-1SG.IPFV say-2F.PFV.CVB
 ba'-óont hikkanníichch ka=b-á
 disappear-2SG.PFV PRO.MED.M.ABL PRO.PROX.M.ACC=PLC-M.ACC
 dawwál-t **kása-ba'a.**
 call-2F.PFV.CVB **ever-NEG**
 'You called (me) once; (then) you said "I will call (again)", (but) you disappeared, and up to now you have never called (again).' (Volunteered 2017)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Kambaata does not have any special negative coordinators. Main, complement and adverbial clauses are coordinated with the additive morpheme (ADD) irrespective of their polarity; see the coordinated benedictive clauses in (55) and the coordinated verbal noun clauses in (56). In the same way as other modifiers in the noun phrase, relative clauses are coordinated with *-na* (COORD), irrespective of their polarity; in (56), the gods are modified by a negative and an affirmative relative clause in coordination.³³

- (55) Maadd-u'-né-e horajj-áata
 eating.place-M.NOM-2PL.POSS-ADD all.times-F.ACC
 haráar-u-nii gáa'nn-u-nii.
 be(come).wide-[3M.]BDV-ADD be(come).fat-[3M.]BDV-ADD
 hór-a-n xuqq-ún-ka-nii
 all-F.OBL-N be(come).narrow-[3M.]JUSS-NEG.JUSS-ADD
 qac-ún-ka-nii.
 be(come).thin-[3M.]JUSS-NEG.JUSS-ADD
 'And may your eating place always be wide (i.e. with many family mem-
 bers) and fat (i.e. with plenty of food); may it never be narrow and thin.'
 (Blessing on the *masaala*-holiday, Volunteered 2003)
- (56) (...) it-iihá-a hansuus-iihá-a dand-it-umb-ú³⁴-na
 eat-M.DAT-ADD smell-M.DAT-ADD be.able-3F-NEG.REL-M.ACC-COORD
 (...) mann-í ang-áan wez-eemmá kiil-á
 people-M.GEN hand-M.ICP make-3HON.PFV.REL sorcery-F.GEN
 magan-n-aakk-áa saggad-deen[án]ta.
 god-PLV-PLV-F.DAT prostrate-2PL.IPFV
 '(...) you will prostrate before gods that cannot (...) eat and smell, and that
 were made by human hands (...)' (Deuteronomy 4: 28; lit. translation
 from the Kambaata version) (The Bible Society of Ethiopia 2023)

Contrastive negation is expressed by two main clauses conjoined with the conjunction *bagáan* ‘but’ (CNTR), which belongs prosodically to the first clause. The possible pause is indicated by (.) in (57) and similar examples. Mostly, the second clause is negated (‘p but not q’), as in (57)³⁵ – note, however, that in an idiomatic

³³Compare with the coordination of two affirmative relative clauses in (13).

³⁴It is unclear why the masculine marker is used here, although the head of the NP is feminine.

³⁵Cf. (9), (14) and (15). See, however, (19) for a contrastive example in which the first clause is negative.

English translation the order of clauses is reversed (‘not q but p’). The conjunction *bagáan* is not inherently negative and also used to contrast two affirmative clauses.

- (57) Kúun búud-u yóo-si-a
 PRO.PROX.M.NOM horn-M.NOM COP.EX.3-3M.OBJ.REL-M.COP.ASC
 hambúl-a bagáan (.) hóol-ch-u-ta-ba’a.
 ram-M.PRED CNTR sheep-SGV-F.PRED-F.COP.ASC-NEG
 ‘This is not a ewe but (this is) a ram with horns.’ (Saint-Exupéry 2018: 14)

Kambaata does not have inherently negative subordinators. See §2.4 for information on the negation of subordinate clauses.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negation through inference

There are (at least) two constructions that regularly invite a negative inference even in the absence of an overt negative morpheme. The first construction contains the equative demonstrative (and by extension: intensifier) *kank-á* ‘that much/many; very much/many’. If used predicatively (lit. ‘it is that/very much’) (58), the demonstrative often invites a negative interpretation (‘it is not that/very much’) (see also Treis 2019: 195).

- (58) Gíir-at katam-í mann-íi aass-itáa tám-it
 fire-F.NOM town-M.GEN people-M.DAT give-3F.IPFV.REL use-F.NOM
 kánk-a-anta.
 that.much-F.PRED-F.COP.ASC<EMPH>
 ‘The use that fire has (lit. gives) for townspeople is not that much (lit. is that much).’ (Kambaata Education Bureau 1989 E.C. 4.56)

The apprehensive verb form (Treis forthcoming) is a fully grammaticalized main verb paradigm that is used in warnings of looming dangers and in threats (59a-59c).

- (59) a. bu<m>bókkoomm
 burn<1PL>APPR
 ‘(take care, otherwise) we might burn’
 b. eeb-bókkooont
 bring-2SG.APPR
 ‘(take care, otherwise) you might bring/cause (something)’

- c. ag-ókkoo-kke
 drink-3M.APPR-2SG.OBJ
 ‘(take care, otherwise) (it) might drown (lit. drink) you’

Whereas the second person apprehensive can be used as a warning of an imprudent realization of an undesirable event, as in (59b), it is also very common to employ the second person apprehensive as a negative command and thus as synonymous to the negative imperative (§2.2.1). See (60), where the second person apprehensive and the negative imperative occur in the same context, and Treis (forthcoming: §3.3) for details.

- (60) Bookk-íta it-téen-oochch-iyye; (...) resh-á-ssa-n
 pigs-F.ACC eat-2PL-NEG.IMP-2PL.IMP carcass-M.ACC-3PL.POSS-EMPH
 ul-teenókkooonta.
 touch-2PL.APPR
 ‘Don’t eat pork; (...) don’t touch their carcasses.’ (Deuteronomy 14: 8; lit. translation from the Kambaata version) (The Bible Society of Ethiopia 2023)

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

Kambaata does not have a dedicated strategy for metalinguistic negation. Instead, as (61) proves, the contrastive construction (cf. 57) is employed. The disputable word choice is negated in clause 2.

- (61) Wóm-m-at gashsh-itáa bagáan (.) mát-ua=rr-íi
 king-PLV-F.NOM reign-3F.IPFV CNTR one-M.OBL=NMLZ-M.GEN
 ann-á ik-káa-ba’a.
 owner-M.ACC be(come)-3F.IPFV-NEG
 (The businessman interrupts the little prince mid-sentence and corrects his word choice:) ‘They rather “reign over” (their kingdom); kings do not “own” anything.’ (Saint-Exupéry 2018: 47)

A different conversational pattern equivalent to metalinguistic negation is illustrated in (62). A does not negate B’s word choice, as in (61), but first quotes it in a question. The preferred wording is then expressed in an isolated *bagáan*-clause.

- (62) Árr-u fúll-ee'u y-áano-ndo? Hór-a buss-áyyoo
 sun-M.NOM come.out-3M.PRF say-3M.IPFV-Q all-M.OBL burn-3M.PROG
bagáan.

CNTR

(A says: 'The sun is shining (lit. has risen).'
 – B corrects A's word choice.)
 'The sun is not shining but really burning.'
 (lit. 'Does one say "The sun has come out"?
 Rather "(It) really burns".') (Elicited 2019)

4.6.3 Non-negative use of negative constructions

This section discusses two non-negative uses of negative constructions. Firstly, the fossilized 3M perfective converb form, *hóogg* lit. '(he) not being', of the lexically negative verb *hoog-* 'not do' (§2.5) serves as a disjunctive between phrases and clauses ('or'), especially in locally produced written material (63), where it is possibly triggered by the need to find a handy translation for Amharic *wäy* 'or' in Kambaata.

- (63) (...) mán-ch-u-s shuma'-anó j-áata
 people-SGV-M.NOM-DEF pee-3M.IPFV.REL time-F.ACC
hóogg wól-e gajaajj-óon mal-á-s
not.do.[3M.]PFV.CVB other-F.OBL reason-F.ICP pustule-F.ACC-DEF
 úll (...) touch.[3M.]PFV.CVB
 '(...) when the person pees or when he touches the pustules for another reason (...)' (Kambaata Education Bureau 1989 E.C. 6.133)

Kambaata has a construction that bilingual speakers regularly translate as a negative question in English. It is marked by question intonation and the morpheme *-bay* (64). However, questions marked by *-bay* are not intended to solicit an answer. They are possibly best characterized as rhetorical questions and are, as such, also found in the middle of monologues. They can express (i) a strong expectation on the side of the speaker that the addressee will fully agree, (ii) the speaker's surprise that the addressee has expressed the opposite, forgotten about something or not realized something obvious (64), or (iii) the speaker's comment about a surprising encounter or discovery (65). So even though the construction comes in the form of a negative question, it is a strongly non-negative assertive statement.

- (64) Ayichch-é=b-a mán-n shaf-an-tóo
 Mum-F.GEN=PLC-M.ACC go-1PL.PFV.CVB churn-PASS-3F.PFV.REL
 az-úta a<n>gim-báy?!
 milk-F.ACC drink<1PL>NIPFV-*bay*
 (A asks B to explain to her what “churned milk” is. B is surprised by the question and says:) ‘Remember, we drank churned milk when we went to Mum’s place!’ (lit. ‘Didn’t we drink churned milk when we went to Mum’s place?!’) (Volunteered 2019)
- (65) A: Xáh-u waal-áyyoo-bay?!
 issue-M.NOM come-3M.PROG-*bay*
 ‘Oh, (here/now) comes the problem!’
 B: Āā (...).
 yes
 (Comment from the audience during a recording of a narrative) ‘Yes, (...)’ (B explains the turning point of the story again.) (Recorded conversation EK2016-02-12_003)

The morpheme *-bay* is possibly segmentable into the standard negator *-ba* (§2.1) plus an undetermined *-y*. However, even though speakers tend to translate it as a negative interrogative in English or provide it as a rough equivalent of the *-ba-ndo*-form in (7–10), the categorization of *-bay* as a negator is not entirely certain. On the one hand, it is attested after the non-imperfective morpheme *-im* (64), which is an aspect category exclusive to negative polarity (recall Table 3), and thus this combination is an argument in favor of interpreting *-bay* as a negator. On the other hand, *-bay* is also attached to progressive verbs (65), where the standard negator never occurs. Furthermore, *-bay* can combine with an already negated verb, the result being a double negative question (lit. ‘Wasn’t it not by chance?’), which serves as a strongly assertive negative statement (66), often after a surprising discovery (e.g. ‘Oh, it was not by chance!’). If the standard negator (NEG) in (66) were dropped, the sentence would again be an assertive affirmative statement (lit. ‘Wasn’t it by chance?’ for ‘Oh, it was by chance!’).

- (66) (...) qée'rr-aa=bb-aan maran-t-áni-yan
 far-M.OBL=PLC-M.LOC walk-2SG-IPFV.CVB-DS
 gambá=y-inoommí-i(hu) áda
 meet=say-1PL.PFV.REL-NMLZ.M.NOM DM
 dangitt-a-ne-eb-**ba-bay**?!
 chance-M.OBL-LNK-COP.ID-NEG-**bay**
 (Speaker realizes that he was mistaken:) 'So it was not by chance that you
 were walking along in this remote place (...)?!' (Saint-Exupéry 2018: 82)

There are two possible positions of *-bay*: It can be suffixed to the main predicate (64–66) or a focused constituent (67). In the latter case, the sentence-final predicate undergoes final vowel-lengthening whose functional motivation is not yet clear.

- (67) Tá abbastbáann-uta mann-aakk-á=g-a-**bay**
 ADN.PROX.F.ACC grown.up-F.OBL people-PLV-F.GEN=SIMV-M.OBL-**bay**
 haasaaww-itáyyoonti-i?!
 talk-2SG.PROG-VV
 (Speaker surprised:) 'You talk *like the grown-ups*!' (Saint-Exupéry 2018: 28)

4.6.4 Diachronic notes and observations

The diachrony of the Kambaata negative morphology is still unexplored. A study of verbal negation in Highland East Cushitic (Treis 2012b) has shown that the languages apply fairly divergent means of standard negation. There are four non-cognate standard negators: (i) Hadiyya -yyo, Libido -ssho, (ii) Kambaata and Alaaba -ba'(a), K'abeena -ba, Gedeo -baa and -bo', (iii) Sidaama di=, and (iv) Burji -ey'i. Given that the Highland East Cushitic languages are closely related, some standard negators must be fairly recent innovations. Negators with initial *b* are found in the standard negation of Kambaata, Alaaba, K'abeena and Gedeo as well as in Hadiyya and Libido, which have a dedicated negative existential verb *bee'e* 'not exist'. *Bee'e* is probably cognate with Kambaata -ba'(a) (NEG). Sasse (1982: 22) expresses the tentative hypothesis that the Highland East Cushitic negators with initial *b* are "borrowed from Omotic" – but without providing any supporting evidence.

5 Summary

The five negative inflectional suffixes of Kambaata are summarized in Table 10.

Table 10: Summary of inflectional negators in Kambaata

Negator	Function	Section
<i>-ba('a)</i>	Negation of declarative main verbs	§2.1
	Negation of non-verbal predicates	§2.3
	Constituent negation	§4.1
<i>ʼ-oot</i>	Negation of imperatives	§2.2.1
<i>ʼ-ka</i>	Negation of jussive and benedictives	§2.2.2
<i>-uʼnnáachch</i> ~ <i>-uʼnnáan</i> ~ <i>-úʼnna</i>	Negation of perfective and imperfective converbs	§2.4.1
<i>-umb</i>	Negation of relative verbs	§2.4.2
	Negation of purposive verbs	§2.4.2

Non-morphological means, i.e. periphrases with a lexically negative verb, are needed to negate verbal nouns. As shown in §2.1 and §2.3, only negated imperfective main verbs and non-verbal predicates are fully symmetrical to their affirmative counterparts. Everywhere else the following paradigmatic asymmetries are observed:

- Reduction or neutralization of aspectual distinctions – see non-imperfective main verbs (§2.1), converbs (§2.4.1) and relative verbs (§2.4.2).
- Reduction of the set of subject indexes – see non-imperfective main verbs (§2.1) and relative verbs (§2.4.2).
- Neutralization of a modal distinction – see jussives/benedictives (§2.2.2).
- Neutralization of the same subject/different subject distinction – see converbs (§2.4.1) and purposive verbs (§2.4.3).

The following constructional asymmetries are observed:

- Different means of subject indexing:

- Type 1: Bipartite subject indexing is reduced to simple subject indexing – see non-imperfective main verbs (§2.1) and relative verbs (§2.4.2).
- Type 2: Covert subject indexing in the affirmation vs. overt subject indexing in the negation – see imperatives (§2.2.1).
- Optional object marking in the negation, but incompatibility of object marking in the affirmation – see converbs (§2.4.1).
- Fully verbal morphology in the affirmation, but verb-adjective hybrids in the negation – see relative verbs (§2.4.2).
- Neutralization of the distinction between relative-based and purposive-based purpose verb forms (§2.4.3).

Apart from inflectional means of negation, Kambaata has a productive caritative derivation *-beel* ‘-less’ that generates adjectives on the basis of nouns (§3.3). Kambaata has no negative indefinite pronouns and instead uses additive-marked interrogatives and quantifiers to express ‘nobody, nothing, nowhere etc.’ under negation (§3.2).

Acknowledgements

The author is affiliated to the research centre *Langage, langues et cultures d’Afrique* (LLACAN, UMR8135 du CNRS/Inalco/EPHE). Work on this chapter was supported by a grant from the *Institut des Sciences Humaines et Sociales* of the *Centre National de la Recherche Scientifique (CNRS)* under the program *Soutien à la mobilité internationale 2019*. I am indebted to Deginet Wotango Doyiso for all the fruitful discussions of the data and analyses presented here. Thanks to the editors and an anonymous reviewer for their helpful comments on an earlier version of this paper.

Abbreviations

1	first person	CNTR	contrastive
2	second person	COND	conditional
3	third person	COP	copula
ADN	adnominal	COORD	coordinative
ABL	ablative	CVB	converb
ACC	accusative	DAT	dative
ADD	additive	DEF	definite
AGT	agentive	DS	different subject
APPR	apprehensive	E.C.	Ethiopian calendar
ASC	ascriptive (copula -(h)a(a) (M)/-ta(a) (F))	EMPH	emphasis
ASSOC	associative plural	EX	existential (copula)
BAY	rhetorical question	F	feminine
BDV	benedictive	GEM	gemination
CAUS	simple causative	GEN	genitive
		GLOT	glottonym

HON	honorific (impersonal)	PL	plural
ICP	instrumental-comitative-perlative	PLC	place
ID	identificational (copula - <i>Vt</i>)	PLV	plurative
IDEO	ideophone	PN	proper noun
IMP	imperative	POSS	possessive
IPFV	imperfective	PRAG	- <i>be</i> -suffix (function yet to be determined)
JUSS	jussive	PRED	predicative
LNK	linker	PRF	perfect
LOC	locative	PRO	pronominal
M	masculine	PROG	progressive
MED	medial	PROX	proximal
MID	middle	PST	past
MIT	mitigator - <i>la</i>	PURP	purposive converb
MULT	multiplicative	Q	question
n.a.	not attested	RED	reduplication
NEG	negator	REL	relative
NIPFV	non-imperfective	SBJ ₁	first subject index
NMLZ	nominalizer	SEQ	sequential
NOM	nominative	SG	singular
OBJ	object	SGV	singulative
OBL	oblique	SIMV	similative, manner nominalizer
ORD	ordinal	SS	same subject
PAL	palatalization	STD	standard (negator)
PASS	passive	VOC	vocative
PFV	perfective	VV	vowel lengthening

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Negation in Siwi

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The paper focuses on the description of negation in Siwi, a Berber (Afro-asiatic) language spoken in Siwa (Egypt). The Siwi negative system in declarative main clauses is strikingly symmetric, if compared to other Berber languages. Symmetry is also found between declaratives and non-declaratives, as they share the same negative marker. The paper explores many aspects of the system, including negation in non-main clauses and non-verbal predications. The final part presents some diachronic notes and a short comparison with some other Berber languages.

Keywords: Siwi Berber, Egypt, Afro-Asiatic, negation, typology

1 The language

Siwi (ISO: **siz**, Glottocode: **siwi1239**) belongs to the Berber language family (Afro-Asiatic phylum). Berber languages are spoken in Morocco, Algeria, Tunisia, Libya, and Egypt as well as in Mauritania, Mali, Niger and Burkina Faso. Siwi is the only Berber language spoken in Egypt. Its speakers are concentrated in two oases: Siwa and El Gāra. These two oases are located in the Western Desert and are very close to the Libyan border. The main oasis, Siwa, is inhabited by over 30,000 people, including Siwi, Bedouins and Egyptians who have come from other parts of the country, and settled in the oasis mainly for work. Siwi people are almost all bilingual, as the vast majority of the population speaks Bedouin and/or Egyptian Arabic as well as Siwi.

There is almost no dialectal variation between the different parts of the oasis. Small differences can be found between the Siwi spoken in Siwa and the one in El Gāra, though data on the latter is scarce (Schiattarella 2017: 102–109). The language is influenced by different strata of Arabic in many parts of its grammar (Souag 2013).

Internal classification is still a matter of debate among Berberologists, but Siwi is oftentimes considered a language which shares many aspects with Sokna and

El Fogaha (Libya), as well as with the Zenatic group (Souag 2013; Kossmann 2020). A description of some aspects of Siwi's negation system can be found in the first grammar of Siwi by Laoust (1931: 48–49), but also in Leguil (1986), Vycichl (2005: 224, 230, 244), Souag (2013: 209–214) and Schiattarella (2015).

Some grammatical features of Siwi are particularly important - as unique within Berber - and others are also typologically rare. Among them, the accent (stress) shift¹ on nouns as a means to code – together with other functions – definiteness and indefiniteness, and the presence of a special series of suffixes for demonstratives that agree in gender and number with the addressee. Unlike most Berber languages, there is no state distinction on nouns in Siwi. The language has a distinct class of adjectives. Its verbal system is based mainly on three stems: perfective, imperfective and aorist. The perfect of result, based on the perfective, is absent in most Berber languages. More details are given in §2.1. Subject affixes are obligatory on verbs and lexical subjects co-referent to those affixes are rarely present. No postpositions are synchronically attested. In order to modify a noun, the genitive preposition *n* 'of' can be used before a noun (possessor), an adjective and a relative clause in respectively adnominal, adjectival and relative clause constructions. Relative clauses are postnominal and the presence of a relativizer depends on the nature of the relative clause (descriptives require no relativizer, restrictives do). Word order is syntactically and pragmatically determined when only one noun is present. When two nouns are lexically expressed in constructions with transitive verbs, the only attested order is AVO (Mettouchi & Schiattarella 2018).

There are two ways negation can be marked in Siwi: the prefix *la-* negates verbs and members of several other grammatical categories and is also found in the negative nominal coordination (*la... la*), while the negative marker *ačči* / *qačči* (Laoust 1931, Vycichl 2005: 244, Souag 2013: 210) is used for some non-verbal clauses and for contrastive/metalinguistic negation. *ula* is the pro-sentential negation marker, but it can also be found in other contexts. The functions of these markers in different domains will be analysed in detail in the following sections. Diachronic and comparative notes will be given in §4.6.3 and concluding remarks in §5.

The data for this article were collected by the author over the course of several fieldwork trips and through online sessions between 2011 and 2022; collection methods mainly included recordings of spontaneous data (monologues and dialogues of variable length) and elicitation sessions with both male and female speakers of different ages.

¹Accent ['] will only be marked in examples taken from spontaneous discourse. An accent that falls on a long vowel will be marked only by ['].

The paper is based on the ‘Questionnaire for describing the negation system of a language’ by Matti Miestamo (2025 version, revised with Ljuba Veselinova). All examples come from my corpus.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Aspectual forms relevant for verbs in Siwi (as in all other Berber languages) include the perfective, the imperfective and the aorist. Two additional verb forms based on the perfective and the imperfective stems, but featuring a suffix *-a* that follows all other suffixes (subject, object and dative indexes when present), are also attested.

Without going into much details, it can be useful to remind here that irrespective of the time frame (it can express present and past reference), the perfective is mainly used in narratives, for processes that only take place once or are seen as completed, and with stative verbs. The imperfective is used for habitual, iterative and frequentative actions, while the aorist is mainly found for the hypothetical, future, irrealis, potential and optative, but also for actions repeated in block (see example (8) below). The perfect of result (based on the perfective) focuses on the result and establishes a pragmatic link with what precedes it. The imperfective *-a* in the affirmative is rare and is used when the event or process expressed by the verb is concomitant with another (see Souag 2013: 197–199, Schiattarella 2019).

Negation is conveyed by the addition of the negative prefix *la-* only, see (1) for perfective, (2) for imperfective, (3) for perfect of result and (6) for aorist. Negation of the imperfective *-a* (4) is not attested.

When *la-* is prefixed to the verb and it precedes a vowel, some phonetic changes take place: it is reduced to *l-* or it triggers an assimilation between *a-* of the negative prefix and the following vowel or semi-vowel (*i*, *u* and *y* only). Both possibilities are exemplified with the perfective stem in (1).

- (1) Perfective
- | Affirmative | Negative | |
|---|--------------|--|
| | | a + u > o |
| a. usi-x
come\PFV-1SG
'I came.' | *la-usi-x > | l-usi-x lo-si-x
NEG-come\PFV-1SG
'I did not come.' |
| | | a + i > e |
| b. if-ax
find\PFV-1SG
'I found.' | *la-if-ax > | l-if-ax le-f-ax
NEG-find\PFV-1SG
'I did not find.' |
| | | a + y > ey |
| c. yə-čča
3SG.M-eat\PFV
'He ate.' | *la-yə-čča > | l-yə-čča le-yə-čča
NEG-3SG.M-eat\PFV
'He did not eat.' |
- (2) Imperfective
- a. əttasi-x.
come\IPFV-1SG
'I am coming.'
- b. l-əttasi-x.
NEG-come\IPFV-1SG
'I am not coming.'
- (3) Perfect of result
- a. usi-x-a.
come\PFV-1SG-PRAG
'I have come.'
- b. l-usi-x-a.
NEG-come\PFV-1SG-PRAG
'I have not come.'
- (4) Imperfective -a
əttasi-x-a,
come\IPFV-1SG-PRAG
'(While) I was coming,'

Negative imperfective-*a* is not found in my corpus and rejected by the speakers in elicitations.

The aorist stem is always preceded by the irrealis marker *ga-*. Souag (2013: 187) mentions the occasional variant *?a-*, which “may be a retention of *a(d)*,² or just a shortening of *ga-*”. This form is not attested in my corpus, probably because of its low frequency. The prefixation of *ga-* involves the same phonological changes seen before with *la-*, see (5). Both forms are attested in my corpus.

- (5)
- | | | | | |
|----|-----------|---|-------------------|----------|
| a. | *ga-usi-x | > | g-usi-x | go-si-x |
| | | | IRR-come\AOR-1SG | |
| | | | ‘I will come.’ | |
| b. | *ga-if-ax | > | g-if-ax | ge-f-ax |
| | | | IRR-find\AOR-1SG | |
| | | | ‘I will find.’ | |
| c. | *ga-yə-čč | > | g-yə-čč | ge-yə-čč |
| | | | IRR-3SG.M-eat\AOR | |
| | | | ‘He will eat.’ | |

The form *ga-* aorist in the affirmative corresponds to two negative forms, both featuring the prefixation of *la-*. Examples in (6) shows them both: the first example in the negative is where *la-* precedes *ga-*, the second where *la-* precedes the prefix *a-* only (dropping of *g*). In addition to those seen before, the latter form entails more phonetic changes (vowel lengthening).

(6)	Affirmative	Negative	
		$la- + a- + C = l\bar{a}$	
a.	ga-t-usəd IRR-3SG.F-come\AOR ‘She will come.’	la-ga-t-usəd NEG-IRR-3SG.F-come\AOR ‘She will not come.’	$l\bar{a}-t-usəd$ NEG\IRR-3SG.F-come\AOR
		$la- + a- + u = l\bar{o}$	
b.	g-usi-x IRR-come\AOR-1SG ‘I will come.’	la-g-usi-x [la-go-si-x] NEG-IRR-come\AOR-1SG ‘I will not come.’	$l\bar{o}-si-x$ NEG\IRR-come\AOR-1SG
		$la- + a- + i = l\bar{e}$	
c.	g-if-ax IRR-find\AOR-1SG ‘I will find.’	la-g-if-ax [la-ge-f-ax] NEG-IRR-find\AOR-1SG ‘I will not find.’	$l\bar{e}-f-ax$ NEG\IRR-find\AOR-1SG
		$la- + a- + y = l\bar{e}y$	
d.	g-yə-čč [ge-yə-čč] IRR-3SG.M-eat\AOR ‘He will eat.’	la-g-yə-čč [la-ge-yə-čč] NEG-IRR-3SG.M-eat\AOR ‘He will not eat.’	$l\bar{e}-y\bar{a}-\check{c}\check{c}$ NEG\IRR-3SG.M-eat\AOR

²The prefix *a(d)* is the most widespread preverb for the aorist in Berber.

Perfective and the aorist are synchronically not morphologically distinguished in both the affirmative and negative domains - except for a restricted class of verbs, like CəC (*fəl* 'leave', *wən* 'mount'), əCC (*əčč* 'eat') and VC (*uš* 'give'). The phonetic change (vowel lengthening) is the only way of distinguishing perfective from aorist, compare (7a) and (7b),

- (7) a. *la-t-usəd*.
 NEG-3SG.F-come\PFV
 'She did not come.'
 b. *lā-t-usəd*.
 NEG\IRR-3SG.F-come\AOR
 'She will not come.'

The distinction is clear in the affirmative domain, thanks to the obligatory presence of the prefix *ga-*.

Following Miestamo's (2005) terminology, it can be said that the Siwi negative system in declarative main clauses only shows a slight paradigmatic asymmetry: while most verbal clauses form their negative by prefixing the negative marker only, there is no one-to-one correspondance as far as the imperfective *-a* and the aorist are concerned. The former is indeed not attested in the negative and the latter corresponds to two different forms in the negative.

Other paradigmatic asymmetries are also found in terms of distribution. Although the negation of *ga*-aorist negation is attested, its semantic functions in the negative domain are not the same as in the affirmative. As mentioned above, the aorist can be used in the affirmative in the domain of the irrealis (future, possibility, probability, hypothetical, etc.), but also for a series of actions that repeat in blocks (Leguil 1986: 100) (i.e. in recipes, where each step takes place once, but the whole procedure needs to be repeated in its wholeness everytime one wants to prepare the same dish again). Often, the referent is generic: see example (8) when the speaker explains what everybody does every year during the Eid celebration.

- (8) *kull əğğən g-yə-yrəs iyéd / g-yə-čč-ən /*
 every one\M IRR-3SG.M-slaughter\AOR malegoat\SG.M / IRR-3-eat\AOR-PL /
g-yə-sw-ən.
 IRR-3-drink\AOR-PL
 'Everyone slaughters a male-goat, (then) they eat and they drink.'

When the aorist is used in the negative, it never expresses this function (the imperfective is used instead). The *ga*-aorist in the negative domain is only used

when the speaker wants to express his/her evaluation that something hypothetical could be realized, or for the future, as in (9):

- (9) kan t-om t-úta / əlmušklət / aħəǵǵáǵ
 if DEM\F-2SG.F 3SG.F-fall\PFV / problem\SG.F / pilgrim\SG.M
 g-yǝ-ṛmṛut / múmken lō-səd / aʃtáqəd
 IRR-3SG.M-die\AOR / maybe NEG\IRR.(3SG.M)-come\AOR / belief\SG.M
 yáʃni / aħəǵǵáǵ daw-óm hánta / g-yǝ-ṛmṛut.
 I_mean / pilgrim\SG.M DEM\M-2SG.F what / IRR-3SG.M-die\AOR
 ‘If it [the stick] falls, it is a problem (i.e. bad luck). [The pilgrim] might
 die, he may not come back. I mean, it is a belief. What [happens] to the
 pilgrim? He might die.’

Nevertheless, the *ga*-aorist is obligatory, in both the negative and affirmative domain, when it follows the complementizer *anni* introducing a purpose clause (see §2.4).

Contrary to many other Berber languages (see §5), in Siwi, object and dative indexes always follow the verb (and its subject affixes), even in the presence of the negative marker *la-*, as in (10):

- (10) la-t-uš-as-t.
 NEG-3SG.F-give\PFV-DAT\3SG-DO\3SG.M
 ‘She did not give it to him/her.’

As far as frequency is concerned, there is a much higher percentage of verbs in the affirmative domain than in the negative, which is not at all surprising, as the negative is not merely the opposite counterpart of the affirmative, but differs from it in a number of ways. Affirmatives are usually pragmatically different from negatives as they are considered to be present as background knowledge and they also take longer to process (Givón 1978, Horn 1989, Miestamo 2005).

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

As in declarative clause, *la-* is used also to mark negation in non-declarative ones. Imperative uses the aorist (11a), while prohibitive uses the imperfective stem (11b).

- (11) a. əffay!
 go_out\AOR.IMP
 ‘Go out!’

- b. **la-təffay!**
 NEG-go_out\IPFV.IMP
 ‘Do not go out!’

In this respect, there is symmetry between declaratives and imperatives in marking negation, because they both use the negative marker *la-*, but there is asymmetry between affirmative and negative imperatives, because, besides *la-*, the prohibitive uses a different aspectual stem (see Miestamo & van der Auwera 2007 for different types of (a)symmetries between declarative and imperative clauses in other languages).

The function of the prohibitive is to prevent something from happening or to ask for something that is already happening to stop, see (12).

- (12) **tə-bdú** **aglās.** / **yə-m̩m-ás** **lá-gəlləs.**
 3SG.M-start\PFV cry\VN / 3SG.F-say\PFV-DAT\3SG NEG-cry\IPFV.IMP
 ‘[The woman] started to cry. [The Christian] said to her: “Don’t cry.”’

The hortative uses the *ga*-aorist form, first person plural, as in (13):

- (13) **gá-n-fəl!**
 IRR-1PL-leave\AOR
 ‘Let’s leave!’

The negation of the hortative is also made through the aorist. It has the function of asking someone to refrain from doing something when the intention of doing it is clearly stated, as in example (14) where the characters want to leave, but their addressee tells them not to:

- (14) A: **gá-n-fəl!**
 IRR-1PL-leave\AOR
 ‘Let’s leave!’
 B: **lā-fl-əm!**
 NEG\IRR-leave\AOR-2PL
 ‘You will not go!’

The jussive is a rare form which uses the aorist stem and the prefix *ədda-*, see (15).³ It is used mainly with first and third persons. This form cannot be negated.

³This form is called by Souag (2013: 192–193) ‘suggestative’, because it is also found in contexts where the speaker suggests somethings, but at the same time asserts its indifference to the action being accomplished. See also Prasse (1973: 13) for Tuareg jussive (*injonctif* in French) and references to forms with similar functions in other Berber languages.

- (15) ədda-t-úsəd ssra bádri / áčči dəgyát.
 JUSS-3SG.F-come\AOR morning early / NEG evening
 ‘Let her come in the morning, not in the evening.’

There are no special constructions for negative interrogatives, as shown by (16a) and (16b).

- (16) a. xsi-t?
 want\PFV-2SG?
 ‘Do you want?’
 b. lá-xsi-t?
 NEG-want\PFV-2SG?
 ‘Don’t you want?’

Oftentimes, negative interrogatives are used when the speakers rather aim at an affirmative interpretation, as in (17).

- (17) lá-ẓri-t agg^wíd / yə-flá s əgdá.
 NEG-see\PFV-2SG man\SG.M / 3SG.M-leave\PFV from here
 ‘Didn’t you see a man, he left from here...?’ (meaning ‘Did you see a man...’)

In cases where the question is a way to ask for the addressee’s attention, the question tag *nola*, which is a merge of *na* ‘or’ and *ula* ‘no’, is used.

In example (18), the speaker, after listing different kinds of food in Siwa, asks me if I am happy with what she is telling me and then continues her narration.

- (18) ssn-át-a aksúm yə-qquṛ-a? /
 know\PFV-2SG-PRAG meat\SG.M 3SG.M-be_dry\PFV-PRAG /
 i-hállay-am nóla? / g-yə-ṡmár-ən-t
 3SG.M-be_happy\IPFV-DAT\2SG.F or_not / IRR-3-do\AOR-PL-DO\3SG.M
 yə-qquṛ-a.
 3SG.M-be_dry\PFV-PRAG
 ‘Do you know the dried meat? Are you happy or not? They make it dry.’

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Affirmative equative and proper inclusion predications in Siwi simply feature juxtaposition of the subject and the predicate. Their negative counterparts (examples (19) and (20)) feature the insertion of the negative marker *ačči/qačči*, which

is used also for negative contrastive focus with nouns, adjectives and verbs (see §4.1).

- (19) šəm áčči wəltmá.
IDP.2SG.F NEG sister\SG.F
‘You are not my sister.’
- (20) nátta áčči limám.
IDP.3SG.M NEG imam\SG.M
‘He is not an imam.’

Negative attributive predication uses the negative marker *la-* and the adjective. Similarly to equative and proper inclusion predication, attributive predication also feature juxtaposition of the subject and the adjective. The adjective can be in its basic form (21a) or followed by the suffix *-a* (22a). Negative attributive negation is made in both cases through the prefixation of *la-*, as in (21b) and (22b):

- (21) a. bass ənnhárdin əddbáš kwayyəsən.
but in_the_past thing\SG.M good\PL.M
‘But in the past things were good.’
b. əlğaw lá-kwayyəs.
weather\SG.M NEG-good\SG.M
‘The weather is not good.’
- (22) a. ənnhárdin / isiwan təhkíkt-a.
in_the_past / siwa small\SG.F-PRAG
‘In the past, Siwa was small.’
b. asúni n şýárən la-sahíl-a.
lift.up.VN of wood\PL.M NEG-easy\SG.M-PRAG
‘Lifting up the wood is not easy.’

A third possibility includes for adjectives to be combined with the genitive preposition *n* ‘of’ (see Schiattarella 2020 for the different functions of these three possibilities). In those cases, the referent having the property expressed by the adjective is in contrast with referents which do not have that property (or have a different one) or the property is considered as being exceptional or unexpected. In example (23), the speaker talks about different types of houses, pointing at the big one and mentioning, afterwards, that smaller ones exist as well.

- (23) agbən daw-om n azəwwar.
 house\SG.M DEM-2SG.F of big\SG.M
 ‘This house is big.’

In both attribution and predication, adjectives combined with *n* cannot be negated.

Locative predication features the juxtaposition of the subject and the locative phrase. The negative counterpart inserts the negative marker *ačči/qačči*, as in (24):

- (24) šəm áčči g ágəən.
 IDP.2SG.F NEG in house\SG.M
 ‘You are not in the house.’

Existential predication is expressed through the invariable particle *di/di-(y)a* ‘there is’. The suffix *-(y)a* is used when the speaker wants to intensify the actuality of the predication (Schiattarella 2019: 173), as shown in (25).

- (25) di inuwən / al ámra dí-ya.
 EX well\PL.M / until now EX-PRAG
 ‘There are some wells... Until now there are, indeed (two which still have water).’

Possessive predication uses the preposition *yur* ‘at’ to which a pronoun indicating the possessor is suffixed, as in (26).

- (26) agbən-sən n azəwwar yúr-əs sətti n tiyərfa.
 house\SG.M-POSS\3PL of big\SG.M at-3SG six of room\PL.F
 ‘Their big house has six rooms.’

Negative existential (27) and possessive predication (28) use *la-* (*la-di*; *la-yur-*), when negated:

- (27) lá-di šal l-i-rah.
 NEG-EX country\SG.M NEG-3SG.M-go\PFV
 ‘There was no place he did not go.’
- (28) ənšní g əddáffa / la-yúr-i ankán.
 IDP.1PL in desert\SG.M / NEG-at-1SG place\SG.M
 ‘(Talking to someone in search for a place to hide) “We are in the desert, I don’t have any place...”’

Negative existential predication is used mainly to express the absence of an entity (of something ‘*la-di šra*’, or someone ‘*la-di hədd*’) (Veselinova 2013), as in (29).

- (29) *tyára nnúba i-rəḥḥát-ən / lá-di tyára*
 bread\PL.F all 3-be_wet\PFV-PL / NEG-EX bread\PL.F
yə-qquṛ-ín-a.
 3-be_dry\PFV-PL-PRAG
 ‘The pieces of bread were all wet, there were no dry pieces of bread.’

la-di-(y)a is not attested. The function of the negative existential predication (absence) is incompatible with the function of *-(y)a* after *di*. This suffix, which can be attached to several grammatical categories, including verbs and adjectives, as seen in examples (3) and (22), is used to mark pragmatic relevance (Schiattarella 2019): in the case of existential predications, it marks the actuality of the predication. It is indeed often used in replies, when someone asks if something is present or when the fact of something being present is questioned and needs confirmation. On the contrary, negative existential predications are used to assert the absence of an entity, with no presupposition of their existence in mind.

Reinforcing negative existential and possessive predication will be dealt with in §4.4.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In Siwi, subject relative clauses, as well as non-subject ones, use the same verbal form as in independent clauses (compare (30a) and (30b)) and no change is involved in the negation, apart from the addition of the negative marker. This differs from most Berber languages, see §5.

- (30) a. *tálti tən t-sáwal*
 woman\SG.F REL 3SG.F-speak\IPFV
 ‘the woman who speaks’
 b. *tálti tən lá-t-sawal*
 woman\SG.F REL NEG-3SG.F-speak\IPFV
 ‘the woman who does not speak’

anni is used as a complementizer to introduce complement clauses. Some verbs allow non-finite complement clauses, but only when the subject of the main and the complement clauses is the same (for instance, *xəs* ‘want’ allows finite and

not finite complement clauses, *bdu* ‘start’ allows non-finite complement clauses, preceded or not by the preposition *i* ‘to’).

Negation of non-finite complement clauses is not attested in my corpus, and the finite form of the verb is used instead (31c), when both finite (31b) and non-finite (31a) complement clauses are allowed in the affirmative, but only finite ones in the negative (31c).

- (31) a. *xsi-x* *aččú*.
 want\PFV-1SG eat\VN
 ‘I want to eat.’
 b. *xsi-x* *gá-čč-ax*.
 want\PFV-1SG IRR-eat\AOR-1SG
 ‘I want to eat.’
 c. *xsi-x* *lá-ga-čč-ax*.
 want\PFV-1SG NEG-IRR-eat\AOR-1SG
 ‘I don’t want to eat.’

It is nevertheless more common to negate the verb in the main clause, as in (32):

- (32) *lá-xsi-x* *gá-čč-ax*.
 NEG-want\PFV-1SG IRR-eat\AOR-1SG
 ‘I don’t want to eat.’

When the complementizer *anni* introduces purpose clauses, the *ga*-aorist form is obligatory, in both the affirmative and the negative (33).

- (33) *i-ħaṭṭú-n-as* *tisónt* *dabb anni lá-g-yə-ʕfən*.
 3-put\IPFV-PL-DAT\3SG salt\SG.F a_lot COMP NEG-IRR-3SG.M-putrify\AOR
 ‘They will put a lot of salt, so that (the meat) will not putrify.’

The negative form of the aorist preceded by *a-* only (dropping of *g*) is often attested in the negative in the context of purpose clauses, as in (34).

- (34) *ga-ħaṭṭ-ax* *ssukkár* *kóm-a* *msabb šahín* *n ttáni* /
 IRR-put\AOR-1SG sugar\SG.M a_lot-PRAG because tea\SG.M of second /
 anni lē-yə-ʕmar *ažáy*.
 COMP NEG\IRR-3SG.M-do\AOR bitter\SG.M
 ‘I will add a lot of sugar, because it is the second tea, so that it does not become bitter.’

Example (33) is one of the very few cases in my corpus where the preverb *ga-* is used after *la*, when the complementizer *anni* when introduces purpose clauses. Nevertheless, since both forms are attested in this environment, it is not possible to talk about asymmetry.

2.5 Negative lexicalization

Examples of negative lexicalizations are treated in different sections of the paper, especially §3.2, §3.3 and §3.4.

The verb *ugay* translates ‘refuse, forbid’, see (35).

- (35) fōtk-i a bēnti / t-ugáy.
open\PFV.IMP-DAT\1SG VOC my_girl / 3SG.F-refuse\PFV
‘“Open up for me, girl.” She refused.’

The verb *yləb* translates ‘cannot, not be able to’, see (36).

- (36) nə-ɣláb ga-nó-ħħəl ləmšakəl-ənnax.
1PL-cannot\PFV IRR-1PL-solve\AOR problem\PL.M-POSS\1PL
 ‘We could not solve our problem.’

Lubah ‘it is unlikely, probably not’ is formally a negative third person singular perfective (*l-(y)-ubah*), and it is invariable in its adverbial function, see (37).

- (37) A: di teni g aṭil
EX date\SG.F in garden\SG.M
'Are there dates in the garden?'
- B: lubah yə-ṣṣy-ən-tit-a.
probably_not 3-take\PFV-PL-DO\3SG.F-PRAG
'Probably not, they took them.'

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Polar questions in Siwi feature final vowel lengthening and higher pitch. The negative reply uses the pro-sentential marker *ula*, while the positive uses *ah*, or *aywa* (Arabic) or the lateral click ⟨ll⟩. Negative replies are also conveyed by *aʔa*, also used to ask someone to stop doing something and by the dental click ⟨ll̥⟩, often repeated twice.

A negative reply can confirm a negative question or reverse the content of an affirmative question, see (38) and (39).

- (38) Q: lá-sawal-aṭ isíwan?
NEG-speak\IPFV-2SG Siwi
‘Don’t you speak Siwi?’

A: ulá.
NEG
‘No, (I don’t)!’

- (39) Q: sáwal-aṭ isíwan?
speak\IPFV-2SG Siwi
‘Do you speak Siwi?’

A: ulá.
NEG
‘No, (I don’t)!’

There is no need to confirm through the verb a positive reply to an affirmative question (40) or a negative reply to a negative or affirmative question (38–39).

- (40) Q: sáwal-aṭ itáli?
speak\IPFV-2SG Italian
‘Do you speak Italian?’

A: ah.
yes
‘Yes.’

In order to reverse the content of a negative question, one can reply with both the affirmative or negative marker, but confirmation must be added through the affirmative form of the verb (41–42).

- (41) Q: lá-ḥḥi-ṭ i təṭ?
NEG-go\PFV-2SG to source\SG.F
‘Didn’t you go to the source?’

A: ah ḥḥí-x-a.
yes go\PFV-1SG-PRAG
‘Yes, I went!’

- (42) Q: lá-**hhi**-t i tət?
 NEG-go\PFV-2SG to source\SG.F
 ‘Didn’t you go to the source?’

A: ulá **hhi**-x-a.
 NEG go\PFV-1SG-PRAG
 ‘No, I went!’

If the speaker confirms the negative content of the question, the affirmative *ah* ‘yes’, rather than *ula*, can be used, but it needs to be followed by a negative form of the verb, as in (43).

- (43) Q: lá-sawal-aṭ itáli?
 NEG-speak\IPFV-2SG Italian
 ‘Don’t you speak Italian?’

A: ah lá-sawal-ax.
 yes NEG-speak\IPFV-1SG
 ‘(Yes), I don’t speak (it).’

Contrary to (41), when reversing the content of an affirmative question, only *ula* (as in (39)) can be used and/or the verb in its negative form (as in (44) and (45)).

- (44) Q: **hhi**-t i tət?
 go\PFV-2SG to source\SG.F
 ‘Did you go to the source?’

A: ulá la-**hhi**-x-a.
 NEG NEG-go\PFV-1SG-PRAG
 ‘No, I did not go.’

- (45) **hhi**-t-a yən ágg^wid dawá / n wihin / wən
 go\PFV-2SG-PRAG to man\SG.M DEM\SG.M / of whatsit / REL
 i-zénzu ləqmáš / ágg^wid la-kwayyəs? /
 3SG.M-sell\IPFV fabric\PL.M / man\SG.M NEG-good\SG.M /
 tó-m̩m̩-as la-**hhi**-x-a. /
 3SG.F-say\PFV-DAT\3SG NEG-go\PFV-1SG-PRAG /

“‘Did you go to the man, whatsit, the one who sells the fabric, the untrustworthy man?’” She said to him: “I did not go.”

When the negative marker is repeated several times, *la* is used instead of *ula*, as shown in example (46).

- (46) yá-m̩m̩-as la la la h̩h̩í-t̩-a. /
 3SG.M-say\PFV-DAT\3SG NEG NEG NEG go\PFV-2SG-PRAG /
 t̩á-m̩m̩-as la-h̩h̩í-x-a. //
 3SG.F-say\PFV-DAT\3SG NEG-go\PFV-1SG-PRAG //
 ‘He said to her: “No, no, no, you went (there)...” She replied: “I did not go.”’

3.2 Negative indefinites, adverbs and quantifiers

The numeral *əḡḡən* ‘one’ functions as an indefinite pronoun in Siwi. It can also be used in the negative, preceded by the morpheme *la-* (apart from my corpus, an example of this is also found in Walker 1921: 80). In example (47), both the indefinite pronoun and the verb are negated by *l(a)-*.

- (47) l-əḡḡən l-yá-ssən h̩ánta i-t̩ṣ̩āra.
 NEG-one\M NEG-3SG.M-know\PFV what 3SG.M-happen\IPFV
 ‘No one knew what happened.’ (lit. ‘No one did not know what happened.’)

Otherwise, in the preverbal position, the negative existential construction is used (Haspelmath 1997, Veselinova 2013), followed by *hədd*, as in (48). *hədd* is an Arabic loanword ‘one, person’ widely used in both Berber and Arabic in negative contexts (Chaker & Caubet 1996).

- (48) lá-di hədd g-í-rah̩ i šáli / lá-di
 NEG-EX person\SG.M IRR-3SG.M-go\AOR to citadel\SG.M / NEG-EX
 hədd g-í-rah̩ i mraqíyət.
 person\SG.M IRR-3SG.M-go\AOR to Maraqi
 ‘Nobody would go to the citadel, nobody would go to Maraqi.’ (lit. ‘There is no one who would go...’)

Alone (without the existential predication), it cannot appear in preverbal position, meaning ‘nobody’: if the indefinite pronoun follows the verb (49), the negative marker *la-* on the verb is required, and *hədd* appears without any negative exponent (in line with the NegEarly principle, see van der Auwera & Van Alsenoy 2016, which is also the case of example (48), where *la-* is on the existential *di* ‘there is’, rather than on the noun).

- (49) lá-fətk-f-as albáb i hədd.
 NEG\IRR-open\AOR-1SG-DAT\3SG door\SG.M to person\SG.M
 ‘I will not open the door to anyone.’

hədd can also be used in affirmative contexts (see example (50) and §4.2), but it is always non-referential. In the affirmative, the indefinite pronoun *əğğən* can be used as well, and in some cases it can be referential (51).

- (50) ənnhərdin / makənni yə-ṇṇút **hədd** / g isiwan /
in_the_past / when 3SG.M-die\PFV **person**\SG.M / in Siwa /
təltáwen i-şərrx-ən / d i-háttu-n iyəd g
woman\PL.F 3-yell\IPFV-PL / and 3-put\IPFV-PL ash\SG.M in
əşşəh-ənsən.
face\SG.M-POSS\3PL
‘In the past, when/if somebody died in Siwa, women yelled and used to
put ash on their faces.’

- (51) afənni tə-zwər / tə-ŋğəf **əğğən** səg líbya.
when 3SG.F-grow\PFV / 3SG.F-marry\PFV **one**\M from Libya
‘When she grew up, she married a guy from Libya.’

When the speaker wants to emphasize the negation, *hidda* is used instead of *hədd*, as in (52):

- (52) lā-fətk-f-as i **hidda**!
NEG.IRR-open\AOR-1SG-DAT\3SG to nobody\SG.M
‘I will not open (the door) to anyone!’

Differently from *hədd* which can be used also in the affirmative, *hidda* is only used in negative contexts (after a negative marker or in elliptical answers) (minimal-unit expression, *Haspelmath 1997*: 227–228), see (53):

- (53) Q: bəttin yə-ččá tyára?
who 3SG.M-eat\PFV bread\PL.F
‘Who ate the bread?’
A: **hidda**.
nobody\SG.M
‘Nobody.’

hədd and *hidda* are both negative indefinites, as pointed out by *van der Auwera & Van Alsenoy* who consider this kind of pronouns as negative despite the fact that 1) the negation is conveyed also by other negative exponents and 2) *hədd* can appear (and actually is more frequent) in affirmative contexts too. Elliptic answers, like (53), have special features that allow to express a negative meaning,

even if the pronoun is not *per se* negative, and there is no other negative exponent (van der Auwera & Van Alsenoy 2016: 476–478). The only difference, in Siwi, is that in the case of elliptical answers, only the emphatic negative indefinite *hídda* can be used.

‘Nothing’ is formed through the negative marker *la-* and the word *šra* or, rarely **h̥hila* ‘thing’; *la-šra* / *lah̥hila*. Contrary to *šra*, **h̥hila* is not attested anymore and only appears with the prefix *la-* (or *ula-*, see §3.4).

When *šra* follows a negative clause (verbal or non-verbal), it may (54b and 54d) or may not (54a and 54c) be preceded by the negative marker *la-*. In the former case, *la-* translates ‘not even’.

- (54) a. *lá-di šra.*
 NEG-EX thing\SG.M
 ‘There is nothing.’
 b. *lá-di lá-šra.*
 NEG-EX NEG-thing\SG.M
 ‘There is not even a single thing.’
 c. *lá-xsi-x šra.*
 NEG-want\PFV-1SG thing\SG.M
 ‘I don’t want anything.’
 d. *lá-xsi-x lá-šra.*
 NEG-want\PFV-1SG NEG-thing\SG.M
 ‘I don’t even want a single thing.’

The same applies to ‘nowhere’ which uses the word *ankan* ‘place’ after another negative exponent (in example (55a), the negative form of the verb). Parallels to what happens to *šra*, if *ankan* is preceded by *la-*, it translates ‘not even’. In example (55b), the allative preposition *i* ‘to’ is also omitted.

- (55) a. *lá-h̥hi-x i ankán.*
 NEG-go\PFV-1SG to place\SG.M
 ‘I did not go anywhere.’
 b. *lá-h̥hi-x l-ankán.*
 NEG-go\PFV-1SG NEG-place\SG.M
 ‘I did not even go to a single place.’

In general, the same distinction is found with nouns, as we will see in §4.5. The negative marker is nevertheless obligatory in elliptic answers, see (56).

- (56) Q: ta yur-əm?
 what at-2SG.F
 ‘What do you have?’ (i.e. ‘What is wrong with you?’)
 A: lá-šra!
 NEG-thing\SG.M
 ‘Nothing!’

‘Never’ is expressed through the Arabic loan *abdan* or with the verb in its negative form and *əx^wra* ‘again’ and/or *xələş* ‘exclusively’, see (57), which can also be used in the affirmative domain.

- (57) lā-ṣṛ-a-šəm xələş əx^wrá.
 NEG\IRR-see\AOR-1SG-DO\2SG.F exclusively again
 ‘I will never see you again.’

‘Never’ can also be expressed by the Arabic loanword *maṛṛawaḥda* ‘ever’ (Souag 2013: 127).

mazal, a loanword from Arabic, is used in both negative (58) and affirmative contexts (59). This is cross-linguistic common (Veselinova & Devos 2021, Veselinova & Asplund 2020), as they are both continuative of an existent (‘still’, positive polarity) or non-existent (‘not yet’, negative polarity) situation (van Baar 1997, van der Auwera 1998).

- (58) n wən yə-nṭṛ-ín-a d n wən mazál l-yə-nṭṛ-ín-a.
 of REL 3-bake\PFV-PL-PRAG and of REL yet NEG-3-bake\PFV-PL-PRAG
 ‘those which were baked and those which were not baked yet’

- (59) šəm mazál / tləččá n slátṭin.
 IDP.2SG.F yet / girl\SG.F of yesterday
 ‘You are still a young girl (lit. a girl of yesterday).’

la- is also used to negate the quantifiers *kom* ‘a lot’, *dabb* ‘many’ and *ḥabba* ‘a bit’. It must be noted that *la-dabb* and *la-ḥabba* are present in my corpus only in elicitations, but they are absent in spontaneous recordings.

3.3 Privative marking

Privative marking uses the preposition *bla* ‘without’, see (60). It is widely considered to be Arabic in origin: Classical Arabic *bi-lā* = Egyptian Arabic *bala* (Souag 2013: 170).

- (60) tə-ṁṁál ɔngr-áx ǎǎǎt n ssənt bla tarwá.
 3SG.F-say\PFV live\PFV-1SG one\F of year\SG.F **without** give_birth\VN
 ‘She said “I stay one year without giving birth.”’

3.4 Other negative constructions/expressions

Two expressions use the negative marker *ula* instead of *la*, when negating a noun: *af ula-ḥhila* ‘for no reason’ (Souag 2013: 210) and *af ula-šra* ‘for nothing’ (Schiattearella 2015), as in (61).

- (61) Q: tádi fáṭma t-gálləs?
 why fatma 3SG.F-cry\IPFV?
 ‘Why is Fatma crying?’
 A: af ulá-šra.
 on NEG-thing\SG.M
 ‘For no reason.’

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

When the scope of negation has to be narrowed to a specific constituent, the negative marker *ačči/qačči* is used, for both contrastive focus or metalinguistic negation. The latter will be dealt with in §4.6.1. This negative marker can be placed before verbal (62), nominal (63), pronominal, adverbial or adjectival (64) predicates: in all such cases, its function is to oppose the presuppositions that may be held by the speaker and/or the addressee.

In example (62), the speaker talks about the role of old women, who also act as teachers to small children.

- (62) qáčči ət-təṁṁ-ásən tanfás w xlaš.
 NEG 3SG.F-say\IPFV-DAT\3PL tale\PL.F and stop
 ‘It was not only about telling them stories (she also transmitted a pedagogical message).’

The same notion of contrast can be found when this negative marker precedes a noun or an adjective, see (63) and (64).

- (63) w-om əlfattət / ačči ənnhás.
DEM-2SG.F silver\SG.F / NEG copper\SG.M
'This is silver, not copper.'

- (64) tálti tat-óm áčči tašmált.
woman\SG.F DEM\F-2SG.F NEG bad\SG.F
'This woman is not bad.' (Replying to someone who thinks she is)

Example (65) is taken from a recording where the speaker is talking about the role of women in Siwa and claims that Siwi women do not need to work, according to their customs. At the same time, she comments precisising that it would be better to reconsider this assumption, given that Siwi women actually work, even if their occupation concerns house chores and childcare.

- (65) tálti t-xəddəm / qáčči lá-t-xəddəm /
woman\SG.F 3SG.F-work\IPFV / NEG NEG-3SG.F-work\IPFV /
t-xəddəm g ágbən.
3SG.F-work\IPFV in house\SG.M
'The woman works, it is not that she does not work, (because) she works at home (taking care of the house, of the children...)'

4.2 Negative polarity

hədd 'one, person' analysed in §3.2 as an indefinite pronoun, can be identified as a negative polarity item as it is found mostly in negative contexts or in conditional clauses introduced by *kan* or *mak(-ənni)* 'if', as in (66). The variant *hidda* is only used in negative contexts.

- (66) kan hədd yə-xśá ahátti mági / g-yə-həhatt.
if person\SG.M 3SG.M-want\PFV put\VN stock\SG.M / IRR-3SG.M-put\AOR
'If anyone wants to put a stock cube, he will.'

For the negative polarity item *qətt/qətt* 'ever, at all' of Arabic origin (Souag 2009), see §4.4.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

No special marking of NPs in the scope of negation is attested in my data.

4.4 Reinforcing negations

The verb *əʃmaɾ* ‘to do’ has several grammatical functions in Siwi, among which the possibility to encode emphasis on what follows: a verb, an existential or a possessive predication. In this case, the verb is a third person singular masculine imperfective.

In order to reinforce the existential or possessive predication, the negative form of this verb is used, see (67) and (68).

- (67) kan fəkkɾ-át-a / l-y-ʃəmməɾ di ššyul g
 if remember\PFV-2SG-PRAG / NEG-3SG.M-do\IPFV EX job\SG.M in
 áššef.
 summer\SG.M
 ‘If you remember, there is no work (at all) during summer.’

The elicited example in (68) shows the difference between the reinforced possessive predication and the simple negative possessive predication. Indeed, the speaker points out that greengrocers do not sell olive oil and that regular grocery shop do not sell meat. The difference between the two is that in the first case, the impossibility to buy olive oil is categorical, while in the second case, one might be able to buy some sort of meat, such as minced meat (though meat is regularly sold at the butcher shop).

- (68) əddəkkan n ləxɖaɾ l-y-ʃəmməɾ yuɾ-əs
 shop\SG.M of fruit_and_vegetable\PL.M NEG-3SG.M-do\IPFV at-3SG
 əddhan / kəllamənni əddəkkan la-yuɾ-əs aksum.
 oil\SG.M / on_the_contrary shop\SG.M NEG-at-3SG meat\SG.M
 ‘The greengrocer definitely does not have oil, while the grocery shop does not have meat.’

The negative polarity item *qatt/qətt* ‘ever, at all’ is used to reinforce negative statements, see (69).

- (69) l-yə-xsa asiwəl did-i qatt.
 NEG-3SG.M-want\PFV speak\VN with-1SG at_all
 ‘He does not want to talk to me at all.’

As seen in §3.2, the indefinite pronoun *hidda* is used instead of *hədd* as an emphatic negative pronoun and differently from the latter, it can only be used in negative contexts. Example (49) is repeated in (70) for practical reasons:

- (70) *lā-fətk-ʔ-as* *i hídida!*
 NEG\IRR-open\AOR-1SG-DAT\3SG to nobody\SG.M
 ‘I will not open (the door) to anyone!’

A noun can be preceded by *la*, mainly with negative existential predications (as in (71)), but also after a negative verb. In this case, *la* functions as a scalar particle ‘not even’. Sometimes, *ħatta* ‘even’, also used in affirmative contexts (Souag 2013: 214:220) from Arabic is used instead.

- (71) lá-di la əlməʃrəb / ʔanni g-yə-hh-ən i zdat.
 NEG-EX NEG road\SG.F / COMP IRR-3-go\AOR-PL to in_front_of
 ‘There was not even a road in order for them to go in front (of it).’

In case more than one noun is present, *la* is used for negative coordination, see §4.5.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Negative verb coordination uses the morpheme *ul(a)-* (Schiattarella 2017: 54), see example (72).

- (72) h̥hi-x i áŋruʃ / ul-ǎčči-x d ul-ǎswi-x.
go\PFV-1SG to wedding\SG.M / NEG-eat\PFV-1SG and NEG-drink\PFV-1SG
'I went to the wedding, I did not eat, nor did I drink.'

Negative nominal coordination (as in example 73) uses *la*.

- (73) yə-hlay-anáx-a / lá-di la aṭṭáw / la
 3SG.M-be_happy.PFV-DAT\1PL-PRAG / **NEG-EX NEG** light\SG.M / **NEG**
 əntərnét / la əddbáš n w-i-(y)ók.
 internet\SG.M / **NEG** thing.SG.M of DEM-PL-2SG.M
 ‘We were happy (because) there wasn’t any electricity, or internet, or any
 other such things.’

While *la* is the most common marker of negative coordination (74a), *ula* is not excluded. It can, indeed, precede the second nominal item of the coordination (74b) or both of them (74c). All three sentences in (74) have the same reading.

- (74) a. la-təčč-ax la aksum la ġġəbnət.
 NEG-eat\IPFV-1SG NEG meat\SG.M NEG cheese\SG.F

- b. *la-təčč-ax* *la* *aksum* *ula* *ğğəbnət*.
 NEG-eat\IPFV-1SG NEG meat\SG.M NEG cheese\SG.F
- c. *la-təčč-ax* *ula* *aksum* *ula* *ğğəbnət*.
 NEG-eat\IPFV-1SG NEG meat\SG.M NEG cheese\SG.F
 ‘I eat neither meat nor cheese.’

More details about the distribution of *la* and *ula*, not only in the context of negative coordination, in both Berber and Arabic is given in §4.6.3.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation uses the negative marker *ačči/qačči* used to correct a wrong statement or the way it is expressed by the speaker or by his/her addressee.

In example (75) the speaker clarifies what his addressee has just said, objecting at how he has presented the situation.

- (75) A: *ámra dáwa* *kan əmmí-t-as* *i hədd* *asíli*
 now DEM\SG.M if say\PFV-2SG-DAT\3SG to person\SG.M load\VN
agəğği *n syárən* / *l-yə-qdar*.
 bundle\SG.M of wood\PL.M / NEG-3SG.M-be_able\PFV
 ‘Nowadays, if you ask somebody (a young boy) to load a bundle of wood, he is not able (to do it).’
- B: *áčči l-yə-qdar* / *l-yə-ssən* *mámək*.
 not NEG-3SG.M-be_able\PFV / NEG-3SG.M-know\PFV how
 ‘It is not that he can’t, he doesn’t know how.’

4.6.2 Non-negative uses of negatives

The negative marker *ačči / qačči* found in most stative predications and in contrastive/metalinguistic negation occurs in one context where it takes a non-negative meaning. It can, in fact, be used when the speaker wants to confirm or agree with what the addressee is saying. It roughly translates ‘Indeed!’, ‘Right!’, ‘Exactly!’.

With this function, it is always followed by the sentence-final discourse particle *ya* ‘you know’, see example (76).

- (76) A: *ásfa* *dáv-om* *ləhmú* *kom!*
 today DEM\SG.M-2SG.F heat\SG.M a_lot
 ‘It is hot today!’

B: áčči ya!
NEG you_know
'Indeed!'

4.6.3 Diachronic and comparative notes

Laoust (1931: 265) argues that the negative marker *la-* comes from Arabic. In several Arabic varieties, *la* is the negative pro-sentential marker, but can be used also for the prohibitive (with or without the post-verbal negation, depending on the variety), for oaths, and for negative coordination with nouns or verbs (Caubet 1996: 88–90, Taine-Cheikh 2000). Sometimes, the second term of the coordination is *u la* or *wa la* where *u/wa* is the Arabic conjunction 'and'.

Souag (2009, 2013) defends the hypothesis of the Arabic origin of the marker *la*, but he further adds that it is possible to imagine a double etymology (Berber and Arabic), at least in the nominal context. The author motivates this hypothesis showing that in one fixed expression '*af ulaħħila*' (*ulaħħila* 'no-thing', *af ulaħħila* 'for no reason'), *ula*, instead of *la*, is used to negate a noun. *ula* 'not even' is used to negate nouns in other Berber languages too, like the variety spoken in Mزاب (Algeria) and in Tamashek, the latter being very little influenced by Arabic (Souag 2013: 209–210).

ula is also found in the Berber variety of Wargla (Algeria), in affirmative contexts, for 'even': *ula šək* 'even you' (Biarnay 1908: 20, transcription and translation mine). Other varieties (Kabyle, Algeria, At Jennad) make a difference between 'even' *la* in affirmative contexts and 'not even' *ula* in negative contexts, with some exceptions of *la* being used in the negative too (after a negative verb) or *ula* in affirmative contexts (mainly in hypothetical clauses). *la* is also a coordinative marker in Kabyle, used in both affirmative (either... or) or negative (neither... nor) contexts (the latter only after a negative exponent (Brugnatelli 2010: 403)).

In other varieties, both *la* and *ula* can be used in affirmative contexts, with the same meaning 'even' (as in the Beni Snous (Algeria) variety, Destaing 1914: 217). Moreover, in a language like Kabyle, *ula* can occur in the composition of the existential negative predicative marker *ulaš* 'there is not', as well as other compounds, i.e. *ulaħədd* 'there is no one', Brugnatelli 2010: 401; Mettouchi 2021: 52).

Table 1 summarises the use of *la* and *ula* in the nominal domain in some Berber varieties. The list is not exhaustive.

As far as the verb is concerned, *ula* can be used as a postverbal negation, in Eastern Kabyle (as reported by Brugnatelli 2010: 403–404, citing Rahmani 1939,

Table 1: Functions of *la* and *ula* in the nominal domain

	Function	Language	NEG	AFF
<i>la</i> (d)	scalar focus particle	Beni Snous, Kabyle (At Jennad)		+
<i>la... la</i>	coordinative marker	Kabyle	+	+
<i>ula</i> (d)	scalar focus particle	Kabyle (At Jennad), Mzab, Tamashek Wargla, Beni Snous	+	+

Rabhi 1992) and in some Western varieties of Tasaḥlit (Algeria, among other markers, Garaoun 2019: 28), for example. It can also be a preverbal negative marker, see Western Rif varieties (Morocco, Lafkioui 2007: 234–235, together with *la-*), Wargla (Algeria, Biarnay 1908: 126–132), and the Western varieties of Tasaḥlit (Garaoun 2019: 28), as shown in Table 2.

Table 2: Functions of *la* and *ula* in the verbal domain

preverbal negation	<i>la-</i> -š, <i>la-</i> -šay <i>ula</i> <i>ula-</i> -š	Western Rif Wargla, Western Tasaḥlit Western Rif
postverbal negation	<i>ula</i>	Eastern Kabyle, Western Tasaḥlit

Brugnatelli recognized the interference that could arise between Arabic and Berber uses of this marker, also because *la...la* is used as an affirmative or negative coordinative marker (either... and; neither... nor) in some varieties of Berber, as mentioned before, while *la... la... wala* is only used for Arabic negative coordination (Brugnatelli 2010: 403).

He then proposes to analyse *ula* as *u* (negation element) and *la* (fixed form of the verb ‘to be’ that, alone, has the meaning of ‘also, even’ and is used in affirmative contexts, in some varieties, as we have mentioned before) (Brugnatelli 2010: 404).

Our corpus shows that *ula* is used in the verbal domain, for negative coordination (neither... nor) and that both *la* and *ula* before nouns need to appear with other negative exponents in the clause (verbal or non-verbal) that contains that noun. In the nominal domain, *ula* is used only for negative coordination and in some fixed expressions, while *la* is also used as a scalar particle. Contrary to other Berber varieties, *la* (or *ula*) cannot be used in the affirmative domain, probably because of the interference of Arabic, where *la* is only used in negative contexts.

As suggested by Souag, it is likely that Berber and Arabic have both contributed to the establishment of the current Siwi negative markers system, where Berber *ula* is only restricted to some specific contexts and fixed expressions and Arabic *la* is only used in negative contexts.

The negative marker *ačči/qačči* is also considered to have an Arabic origin by Souag. Indeed, he analyses it as *qačč* ‘not at all, never’ + *šay* ‘thing’ (Souag 2009).

Just to mention some aspects relevant to the comparison with some Berber varieties, we can notice that Siwi lacks specific negative stems as the negative perfective and the negative imperfective found elsewhere. The negative perfective is indeed attested in many Berber languages, except for Siwi and for some varieties of Tashelhiyt in Morocco, while the negative imperfective is no longer found in Kabyle, Siwi, Tashelhiyt, some varieties in Central Morocco, and others (Kossmann 2012: 41). Another feature of other Berber languages, which is lacking in Siwi is the change of position of clitics when there is a negative marker: from post-verbal, they are repositioned in front of the verb, right after the negative marker. This change of position is not restricted to negation, but also occurs in other environments, such as in relative clauses, after the aorist preverbal particle, and after some conjunctions. In the majority of the Berber languages, the negative markers are *wər*, *wəl* and *ul*. Some varieties have a post-verbal negation marker (Kabyle, Aures, Nefusi, among others), in some contexts (like in Kabyle, Mettouchi 2009, 2021). Nevertheless, *la* (and *ula*) is not exclusive to Siwi (see §4.6.2).

The asymmetries between affirmative and negative domains, in terms of aspect, vary from one language to the other. For an overview on negation in Berber, see Chaker 1996, Mettouchi 2009, 2010, 2012, 2021.

Subject relative clauses in most Berber languages use a special verbal form, traditionally called participle in Berber studies, characterized by a special series of prefixes and/or suffixes. Depending on the varieties, this form can be a unique form or agree in gender, number and person with the head noun. Analogously, in some varieties, the participle undergoes morphological changes when the negative marker is added (apart from the addition of the negative marker) (see Mettouchi 2017). In Siwi no such form is attested, as mentioned in §2.4.

In Berber, there is also a high degree of variations as far as imperative and prohibitive are concerned. The use of the aorist in the former and the imperfective in the latter is also attested in other Berber languages such as Kabyle, Tarifit and Zenaga (as is shown in the survey by Mettouchi 2021: 68–71. See also Lafkioui 1996, Taine-Cheikh 2011).

Many features present in Berber languages are absent in Siwi because of the Arabic influence, which is particularly evident in this domain (for example, the

use of the indefinite pronouns or the absence of dedicated negative stems were probably lost due to the strong influence of Arabic (Souag 2013: 212)).

5 Conclusions

This study provides a synchronic analysis of negation in Siwi, with additional notes on diachronic and comparative aspects. The standard negation system is characterized by a relatively symmetric structure, with the primary distinction between affirmative and negative contexts being the presence of the preverbal marker *la-* in the latter. The same negative marker is used for non-declarative clauses and certain stative predications, such as attributional, possessive, and existential ones. Other nonverbal predications employ a different negative marker, *ačči/qačči*, which is also used for contrastive/metalinguistic negation. There appears to be no significant asymmetry between negation in main and non-main clauses. Negative replies involve the use of *ula*. The presence of both *la* and *ula* in verbal and nominal contexts is noteworthy, especially considering their implications in terms of historical development and contact with Arabic.

Table 3 summarises the negation strategies found in Siwi and their functions.

Acknowledgments

All examples were transcribed and translated into English with the help of Siwi speakers, who I wish to thank here. I am also grateful for the comments and suggestions I received from the editors of the volume, the anonymous reviewers and the colleagues who read earlier versions of this paper. All errors are my own.

Table 3: Summary of negation in Siwi

Marker	Function	Section
<i>la</i>	Negative declarative clauses	§2.1
	Negative non-declarative clauses	§2.2
	Negative in non-main clauses	§2.4
	Negative attributive, existential and possessive predication	§2.3
	Negative prosentential marker, only when repeated	§3.1
	Used with a number of indefinites and quantifiers	§3.2
	Before nouns, for emphatic negation	§4.4
	Negative coordination (<i>la...la</i>)	§4.5
<i>ačči / qačči</i>	Negative equative, proper attribution and locative predication	§2.3
	Contrastive focus	§4.1
	Metalinguistic negation	§4.6.1
<i>ačči ya</i>	‘Indeed’	§4.6.2
<i>nola</i>	Question tag	§2.2
<i>lubah</i>	‘Probably not’	§2.5
<i>ula</i>	Prosentential marker	§3.1
	Negative coordination (<i>ula...ula</i>)	§4.5
<i>mazal</i>	‘Not yet’	§3.2
<i>abdan, marṛawahda</i>	‘Never’	§3.2
<i>ħədd, ħidda</i>	Negative polarity item, ‘one, person’	§3.2; §4.2; §4.4
<i>bla</i>	‘Without’	§3.3
<i>af ulaħħila, af ula šra</i>	‘For no reason’	§3.4
<i>qaṭṭ/qəṭṭ</i>	Negative polarity item, ‘At all’	§4.4
<i>lyəlm̩mar</i>	Negative emphatic existential and possessive predication	§4.4

Abbreviations

1	first person	IRR	irrealis
2	second person	JUSS	jussive
3	third person	M	masculine
ADJ	adjective	PFV	perfective
AOR	aorist	PL	plural
COMP	complementizer	POSS	possessive
DAT	dative	PRAG	pragmatic relevance marker
DEM	demonstrative	NEG	negative
DO	direct object	REL	relative marker
EX	existential	SG	singular
F	feminine	VOC	vocative
IDP	independent pronoun	VN	verbal noun
IMP	imperative	/	end of a minor prosodic unit
IPFV	imperfective	//	end of a major prosodic unit

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Negation in Lopit

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Negation in Lopit is mostly constructed with the negative verb /ɲa/ ‘not be’ in a complex clausal construction. This verb is often used in the form /iɲa/, with the same form for first, second and third person. However, when used with modal verbs and in subordinated clauses, it has the pronominal prefixes normally used in the language. The form /iɲa/ appears to be a fused or lexicalised form of the verb /ɲa/, as is the form /xɔɲa/, which is used in coordinated constructions. Most negative constructions comprise the negative verb /ɲa/ and the lexical verb, which is marked with the subordinating prefix and maintains its person marking. The negative verb is clause-initial, and the lexical verb is placed after the subject to give an NEG SVO word order. It is likely that the negative construction originated as a bi-clausal construction. Nearly all negation involves complex clausal constructions. Even when verbless predications are negated, the negative verb is mostly used with a copula verb. The main exception is with non-locative existential predications, which are negated using the negative verb /iɲa/ only, with no copula verb. Negative imperative constructions use the verb /idek/, meaning ‘avoid’ or ‘leave’, in combination with a special prefix /xai-/ on the lexical verb. Negative constructions involving an ongoing or persistive activity use the verb, /ɲei/, which is an alternate form of /ɲa/.

Keywords: verbal negation, Nilotic, stative predications, imperatives, interrogatives.

1 The language

Lopit (ISO: **lpx**, Glottocode: **lopi1242**) is an Eastern Nilotic language of South Sudan, spoken by around 50,000 people living in the Lopit Hills, north-east of Torit in Eastern Equatoria province. It is part of the Lotuxo sub-group of the Lotuxo-Maa languages. Until recently, the Lopit language has received little descriptive attention. Some observations on Lopit were made by authors working on the related Otuho (Lotuko) language (Muratori 1938) and in comparative wordlist data

Jonathan Moodie. 2025. Negation in Lopit. In Matti Miestamo & Ljuba Veselinova (eds.), *Negation book*, 145–178. Berlin: Language Science Press. DOI: ??



collected by [Driberg \(1932\)](#) and [Vossen \(1982\)](#). Lopit has only been the focus of linguistic description and documentation in more recent years. The language has six different dialects (Ngaboli, Dorik, Ngutira, Lomiaha, Lohutok and Lolongo), and data collected with speakers of a number of these has led to observations on aspects of Lopit phonetics and phonology ([Stirtz 2014](#), [Turner 2001](#)) and morphology and syntax (e.g. [Ladu et al. 2014](#)). A major study of the phonetics and phonology of the Dorik dialect of Lopit has been carried out by [Billington \(2017\)](#). A grammar of the Dorik dialect of Lopit has been compiled by [Moodie & Billington \(2020\)](#).

The data in this paper comes from extensive fieldwork with Lopit speakers now living in Melbourne, Australia, and, to a lesser extent, living in the Kakuma Refugee camp in Northern Kenya. The examples in this paper are taken from the transcriptions of the recorded sessions and are examples of the Dorik dialect.

In common with most other Eastern Nilotic languages, the basic constituent order is vso. Lopit has the feature of advanced tongue root (ATR), which is common amongst Nilotic languages. It also has both lexical and grammatical tone. Tone is used, among other things, to mark the nominative case and to mark aspect. Lopit has two classes of verbs, one in which the root is consonant-initial (Class I) and one which has a root-initial close front vowel (Class II). The verbs have a pronominal prefix which marks the number and person of the subject. This pattern is shown in Table 1. The first, second and third person singular markers (/a-/, /ɪ-/, /ɛ-/) are widespread in Nilo-Saharan languages ([Greenberg 1966](#): 86). Note that these are [-ATR] in their underlying form but can be realised differently according to ATR vowel harmony and mid-vowel assimilation processes.

Table 1: Number/person marking for subjects

person	singular	plural
1 st	a-	ɛɪ-, eɪ-
2 nd	ɪ-, i-	ɪ-, i-
3 rd	ɛ-, e-, ɔ-, o-	ɛ-, e-, ɔ-, o-

There is no grammatical tense in Lopit. Temporal reference is made with a small range of adverbs or is determined from the discourse context. There are many inflectional and derivational possibilities for the verb in Lopit. Verbs can be marked for person, number, aspect, modality, voice, directionality and the presence of causative and applicative derivations. In addition, infinitives, inter-

rogatives and imperatives are marked on the verb. A possible template for Lopit verbal morphology is shown in Table 2.

Table 2: A verb morphology template for Lopit – 2nd try with glosses

initial prefixes		pronominal marker	modal prefixes		aspectual prefixes		causative prefix		root	suffixes	
<i>x-</i>	Q	person and number of subject (and object)	<i>ɲai-</i>	IRR	<i>(x)l-</i>	PFV	<i>itr-</i>	CAUS		<i>-a, -o</i>	IPFV
<i>x-</i>	SEQ		<i>ma-</i>	POT	<i>ɲa-</i>	PFV				<i>-ítà</i>	CONT
<i>l-</i>	SUB		<i>mai-</i>	COND	<i>lV-</i>	PERSIS				<i>-(V)k</i>	DAT/APPL
			<i>tV-</i>	OBLIG						<i>-ri, -ije</i>	INSTR
										<i>u, -ni</i>	VEN
										<i>-ei, -ri</i>	ITV
										<i>-a, -o</i>	MID
										<i>-a, -o</i>	DTR

In this paper, I use broad phonetic transcription in glossed examples and tables. Abbreviations used in glosses are given in the abbreviations list in the end of the chapter. The transcription of vowels in any example reflects the results of any harmony and assimilation processes present. The in-text examples are also given in broad phonetic transcription. Square brackets are used to indicate what was transcribed. Where words or stems are discussed in general terms rather than in an extract from a transcription, they are transcribed without tones, as the tones in any particular utterance depend on a number of factors such as case, aspect, number.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

A declarative verbal main clause is given in (1). Standard negation of this clause is shown in (2). The negative is expressed with the verb /*ɲa*/. The lexical verb is placed after the subject and is prefixed with the subordination marker /*l-*/, ‘SUB’.¹ The lexical verb [láuú] maintains its first-person pronominal marking and the subject maintains its nominative case marking, as shown in (1) and (2).

¹The prefix /*l-*/ is used on verbs in a number of environments such as the conditional clause, the relative clause, negative constructions, contrastive focus constructions, and interrogatives. In some situations where the verb has the subordinate marker, it will be in a subordinate clause. This is why the term ‘subordinate marker’ and the gloss ‘SUB’ are used. In other situations, the subordinate marker is used in a clause which may not be subordinate. However, in these cases, the lexical verb with the subordinate marker is not in the unmarked clause-initial position (see Moodie 2019: 271, for further discussion).

- (1) á-wú náj à=tòrít
1SG-go 1SG.NOM to=Torit
'I'm going to Torit.' (MB1-341 00:01:06)
- (2) ɪnà náj l-á-wú à=tòrít
not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-go to=Torit
'I'm not going to Torit.' (lit. 'I am not (that) I'm going to Torit.')

In the simplest form of standard negation, the negative form /ɪnà/ does not follow the normal pronominal marking paradigm which is shown in Table 1. Constructions such as example (3), with the normal first-person pronominal marking, are not possible. The word /ɪnà/ is used for first, second and third person and I gloss it as 'not.be'. It might be a lexicalised form, possibly coming from the second person form /ɪ-nà/.

- (3) * a-nà náj l-á-wú à=tòrít
1SG-not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-go to=Torit
Attempted: 'I'm not going to Torit.' (MB1-015 02:03:25)

In some situations, the pronominal marking for /nà/ does follow the normal pronominal marking paradigm. This can happen when the negative verb is used in subordinate clauses, such as conditional or modal constructions (§2.3) or in focussed constructions (§4.1). Sometimes /ɔnà/ is used in negative constructions instead of /ɪnà/. This happens in interrogatives (§2.2.2) and coordination constructions (§4.5). The pronominal marker /ɔ/ is a third person marker.

The negative /ɪnà/ can be regarded as a verb. The root is /nà/ and this verb behaves like other verbs in that it is clause-initial; it is marked for person (sometimes); it takes the subordinate and interrogative markers; and it can be marked for (some types) of mode and aspect.

The use of negative verbs is reasonably common in the world's languages. In *WALS* online, Dryer provides examples of languages with negative verbs (2013). He describes them as negative auxiliary verbs which he defines as negative words which occur with the "inflectional morphology associated with verbs in the language" (Dryer 2013).

In Miestamo's (2005) classification, standard negation in Lopit can be described as asymmetric with a finite negative verb. Miestamo states that the "negative verb can be an auxiliary or a higher verb taking a clausal complement" and the "finiteness of the lexical verb is lost or at least reduced" (2005: 81). In most of the

examples of auxiliary negative verbs given by Miestamo (2005: 81–87), the lexical verb does not have pronominal marking. In Lopit, however, both the negative verb and the lexical verb are finite in that they both show pronominal marking. The only example given by Miestamo where both verbs are finite is an example from the Salishan language Halkomelem (Galloway 1993: 176, 185), shown in (4). The main difference for this example is that the lexical verb is marked for irrealis (subjunctive).

- (4) Halkomelem (ISO: *hur*, Glottocode: *halk1245*, Galloway 1993: 176, 185 quoted by Miestamo 2005: 83)
- a. *lém-cəl*
go-1sg
'I go.'
 - b. *ʔəwə-cəl lém-əl*
neg-1sg go-1sg.sbjn
'I do/will not go.'

Negative verbs have also been examined by Payne, who groups them into auxiliary negative verbs and higher negative verbs. In the first group, the negative verb “acts as a finite auxiliary to the lexical verb which in turn typically occurs in some non-finite form” (Payne 1985: 207). The Lopit negative verb cannot be regarded as an auxiliary verb since the lexical verb maintains its pronominal marking, i.e. is finite. In Payne’s other group, the negative verbs take a full sentential complement. This is like Miestamo’s second classification of negative verbs, i.e. “a higher verb taking a clausal complement” as presented above. The Lopit negative verb might belong to this group. For example, in (2), ‘I’m not going to Torit’, could be interpreted as something like ‘I am not that I am going to Torit’, where the expression [*láuú à=tòrit*] could be a complement clause. Note that the subject maintains its nominative case marking when the negative is formed. That means that one could not interpret the construction in (2) as ‘It is not me that am going to Torit’. Nor could it be interpreted as ‘It’s not that I’m going to Lopit’.² In addition, the use of the first-person pronominal marking in the verb /*lawu*/ means that (2) could not be interpreted as ‘I am not the one (who is) going to Torit’.

²If the two clauses were the equivalent of ‘It’s not’ and ‘I’m going to Lopit’, the second clause would be [*nàn láuú à=tòrit*], ‘1SG.ABS SUB-1-go to=Torit’. That is the first person pronoun would be in the absolutive and not the nominative case, since there is ‘no case before the verb’ in marked nominative languages (König 2006).

This kind of construction also occurs with other words that are derived from auxiliary-like verbs. The word /lɔʔɔ/ or /laʔɔ/ is often used to introduce an adverbial clause as in (5), where it can be translated as ‘when’. It is probably derived from the verb /ʔɔ/, ‘say’ and could be glossed as /l-a-ʔɔ/, (SUB-1SG-say), in (5). It is verb-like in that it marks the subject of the subordinate clause. In addition, the word order differs from the normal vso order and could be described as AUX vso word order. The lexical verb in the subordinate clause is prefixed with the subordinate marker and is placed after the subject. The corresponding independent clause would be [áwú nán à=tòrit], ‘I go to Torit’. Thus, the word /lɔʔɔ/ (or /laʔɔ/) shows similar verb-like behaviour to the negative verb in terms of person marking, influence on word order and on the use of the subordinate marker on the lexical verb.

- (5) [làʔɔ nán l-á-wú à=tòrit] á-bót nán à=bòlis
 when.1SG 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-go to=Torit 1SG-go.direct 1SG.NOM to=police
 ‘When I go to Torit, I will go straight to the police.’ (MB1-160 00:14:20)

In Lopit, both perfective and imperfective aspect are compatible with negation. Imperfective and perfective constructions with the verb /iwus/, ‘drink (hot liquids)’, are shown in (6) and (7) respectively. This is common amongst the world’s languages (Miestamo & van der Auwera 2011).

- (6) ínà nán l-a-íwús-ò ʃaî
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-drink-IPFV tea.ABS
 ‘I’m not drinking tea.’ (MB1-269 00:32:18)
- (7) ínà nán l-a-íwús ʃaî
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-PFV.drink tea.ABS
 ‘I didn’t drink tea.’ (MB1-269 00:32:50)

In Lopit, there is a particular word, /ɔlɔxɔɲa/ or /ɛlexɪɲa/ which includes the negative verb /ɲa/. It can be translated as ‘not yet’. It is used in constructions which are similar to standard negation and is normally used in perfective constructions. The word could be glossed as /ɔ-lɔ-x-ɔɲa/, ‘3-PERSIS-SEQ-3-not.be’, where the prefix /ɛ-/ marks the persistive aspect (see §2.5). This would support its interpretation as ‘not yet’ or ‘still not’. Thus, the meaning is still somewhat compositional (STILL NOT), although it can be regarded as having a fused (or formally altered) construction.

This word is illustrated in the following examples. Example (8) is a question and (9) is a possible answer. Note that the clause [ɔlɔxɔɲà nán lát:ɔxò] has the

same structure as standard negation (i.e. NEG s v) and the lexical verb is prefixed with the subordinate marker /l-/.

- (8) x-í-t:òxó íjé ìgèṁ
Q-2-finish.PFV 2SG.NOM work.ABS
'Have you finished?' (MB1-330 00:39:02)

- (9) íṇà òlòxónà nán l-á-t:òxó
not.be not.yet 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-finish.PFV
'No, I haven't finished yet.' (MB1-330 00:39:02)

Example (10) is a question which can be answered in two different ways. The answer in (11) uses the /òlòxónà/, 'not yet', construction. The more general way of answering is given in (12).

- (10) x-í-cá íjé dè=tòrit
Q-2.PFV-dance 2SG.NOM at=Torit.ABS
'Have you danced in Torit?' or 'Did you dance in Torit?' (MB1-142 00:32:12)

- (11) ólòxónà nán l-â-cá dè=tòrit
not yet 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG.PFV-dance at=Torit.ABS
'I have not yet danced in Torit.' (MB1-142 00:34:37)

- (12) íṇà nán l-â-cá dè=tòrit
not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG.PFV-dance at=Torit.ABS
'I have not danced in Torit.' (MB1-142 00:32:36)

This word is sometimes expressed as [èléxìṇà], as illustrated in (13). The word could be glossed as /è-lé-x-ìṇà/, '3-PERSIS-SEQ-not.be'). Both /òlòxónà/ and /èléxìṇà/ are often shortened to /òlṇà/ and /èléṇà/ respectively. The elision of the /x/ prefix in Lopit is common.

- (13) a-í-j:é-j:énà nán xirò nà lòpít èléxìṇà xàtí nán
1SG-II-RED-know 1SG.NOM VN.speak of.F Lopit not yet however
l-a-í-ij:én bìnó
1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-PFV-know very
'I have been learning to speak Lopit, but I have not yet learned much.'
(MB1-293 00:13:08)

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

2.2.1 Negative imperatives

For Class I verbs, standard imperatives use the prefix /tɛ-/ or /tɔ-/ for singular imperatives and the form /itr-/ for plural imperatives. The singular imperative of the Class I verb /bɔt/, ‘go direct’, is shown in (14).

- (14) tó-bòt a=xàŋ náítì
IMP.SG.go.direct to=home.ABS my.F.ABS
‘Go straight to my place!’ (MB1-098 00:41:41)

For Class II verbs, the normal imperative is the same as the verb stem, except that the singular and plural forms have different tonal patterns. An example of the singular imperative with the verb /ɪnak/, ‘repeat’, is shown in (15).

- (15) ɪnáx-à rórí nàná l-í-ǰó íjé
IMP.SG.repeat-IPFV words.ABS those.F.PL SUB-2-say 2SG.NOM
‘Repeat those words you said!’ (MB1-321 00:17:32)

There is a special construction for negative imperatives. It involves the word /idek/ and a verb prefix /xai-/. An example is given with the Class II verb /ɪrɔ/, ‘speak’, in (16). The prefix /xai-/ appears to be a kind of imperative prefix. Unlike standard imperatives, the negative imperative has no distinction between singular and plural. In addition, as shown in (17), the infinitive construction cannot be used.

- (16) ídèk xai-írò
NEG.IMP NEG.IMP-speak
‘Don’t talk!’ (MB1-014 00:36:40)
- (17) * ídèk x-írò
NEG.IMP INF-speak
Attempted: ‘Don’t talk!’ (MB1-014 00:36:40)

The negative imperative with a Class I verb is illustrated with the verb /ca/ ‘dance’ in (18).

- (18) ídèk xai-cá díxà
NEG.IMP NEG.IMP-dance like.that
‘Don’t dance like that!’ (MB1-319 00:45:36)

A more complex example is shown in (19) using the verb /isjere/, ‘give’. Note that the use of the second personal pronoun (in this case /itei/, ‘2PL’) is possible, but is not normally used.

- (19) ídèk (íteí) xai-ísò nàŋ xírínò
 NEG.IMP (2PL.NOM) NEG.IMP-give 1SG.ABS meat.ABS
 ‘Don’t give me meat!’ (lit ‘Avoid give me meat.’) (MB1-324 00:09:38)

The word /idek/ can be glossed as the imperative form of the verb /idek/, ‘leave’ (i.e. as IMP.leave). It can be translated as ‘avoid’, ‘leave off’, ‘give up’, ‘refrain from’, as illustrated in (20).

- (20) a-ídék nàŋ rɪpà tifi xɪjɔ è-díxà nàŋ xɔpɛxítè
 1SG-leave 1SG.NOM VN.watch TV COMP 3-ache 1SG.ABS eyes
 ‘I gave up watching TV because it hurts (my) eyes.’ (MB1-020 01:26:14)

The verb /idek/ can also be used in the sense of ‘move away from’ as in (21).

- (21) a-ídék nàŋ xàŋ àrá móíté?
 1SG-leave 1SG.NOM home.ABS IMM.PST morning
 ‘I left home this morning.’ (MB1-020 01:28:48)

This verb could be regarded as an auxiliary verb when it is used in negative constructions such as (16), (18), and (19). In these constructions, the lexical verb has a finite form (i.e. no pronominal marking).

2.2.2 Negative interrogatives

Negative polar interrogatives can be formed using the negative verb /ɲa/ together with the question marker /x-/. A pair of affirmative and negative polar questions is given in (22) and (23). The word order with the negative question verb is similar to the word order in negative declarative clauses. In (23), the subject [íjé], ‘you’, is placed in front of the lexical verb, which maintains its pronominal prefix and is also prefixed with the subordinate marker /l-/. The word [xɔpà] is glossed as ‘Q-not.be’. This is another generalized pronoun marker where /ɔ-/ is used instead of /ɪ-/ for the first, second or third person.

- (22) x-í-t:óxò íjé
 Q-2-finish.N 2SG.NOM
 ‘Have you finished?’ (MB1-330 00:39:02)

- (23) x-óɲà xàtí íjé l-í-t:óxò
Q-not.be indeed 2SG.NOM SUB-2-finish
'Haven't you finished (yet)?' (MB1-330 00:39:02)

The word /xatí/, 'but', 'however', 'indeed', appears to be always used in negative interrogative constructions and is placed after /xɔɲa/. The word /xatí/ is also used in adversative coordination (Moodie & Billington 2020: 367), although it is not a conjunction. It could be described as an emphatic adverb.

Another example is given with the verb /wu/, 'go', in (24).

- (24) x-óɲà xàtí l-í-wú à=xàɲ
Q-not.be indeed SUB-2-go to=home.ABS
'Aren't you going home?' (MB1-330 00:41:00)

Sometimes /ɪɲa/ is used instead of /xɔɲa/, as shown in (25). There are insufficient examples to know how common this is.

- (25) ɪɲà xàtí l-í-wú à=xàɲ
not.be indeed SUB-2-go to=home.ABS
'Aren't you going home?' (MB1-341 00:01:53)

The word /xɔɲa/ is also used in tag questions, together with the particle /ifa/, which is normally used to indicate that the event occurred in the past. The interrogative tag, [xóɲà ífá] is shown in (26). However, unlike English, the tag does not change for polarity (27) or temporal situation (28). Given that the expression [xóɲà ífá] is used in relation to a future event (as in (28)), it appears to be a lexicalised construction.

- (26) ò-wú ɪɲé à=sùk x-óɲà ífá
3-go 3SG.NOM to=market.ABS Q-not.be PST
'She went to the market, didn't she?' (MB1-022 01:04:12)
- (27) ɪɲà ɪɲé l-ò-wú à=sùk x-óɲà ífá
not.be 3SG.NOM SUB-3-go to=market.ABS Q-not.be PST
'She didn't go to the market, did she?' (MB1-022 01:04:26)
- (28) ò-wú isó ɪɲé à=sùk x-óɲà ífá
3-go FUT 3SG.NOM to=market.ABS Q-not.be PST
'She will go to the market, won't she?' (MB1-022 01:04:26)

2.3 Negation in stative predications

The morpheme /ɪpa/ is used in all negation in stative predications. Most predications utilize the copula verbs /ra/, ‘be’, and /w:ɔn/, ‘exist’. As will be shown in this section, negatives in stative predications are mostly of the same form as standard negation. The main exception is with non-locative existential predications where the only verb is the negative verb.

Example (29) can be described as an equative predicate nominal (T. E. Payne 1997: 114) or as a referential nominal predicate (Dryer 2007: 233). The copula verb /ra/ has a fused form in most situations. The form /ara/ is used for first, second and third person in these situations. In this paper it is glossed as ‘be’. The other copula verb /w:ɔn/ has normal pronominal marking, as shown in (47).

- (29) árá xàbò lòrèwâ lití
 be chief.NOM husband.ABS my.M.ABS
 ‘The chief is my husband.’ (MB1-162 00:15:50)

In some situations, the verb /ra/ has normal pronominal marking. This is illustrated in (30), where it is used with the conditional prefix /maɪ/. Thus, the verbs /ra/ and /ɪpa/ are similar in that they both have fused forms in simple declarative clauses but can have normal pronominal marking in subordinate clauses.

- (30) ì-maɪ-rá íjé xábó í-maɪ-lwáxá-k íjé ijòxoí
 2SG-COND-be 2SG.NOM chief.ABS 2SG-COND-help-DAT 2SG.NOM 1PL.ABS
 ‘If you could be the chief, you would help us.’ (MB1-010 00:24:00)

The negation of (29) is given in (31). The construction is similar to standard negation. The negative verb is clause-initial, and the subject is placed after the negative verb and before the copula.

- (31) ípà xàbò l-ára lòrèwâ lití
 not.be chief.NOM SUB-be husband.ABS my.M.ABS
 ‘The chief is not my husband.’ (MB1-341 00:27:52)

Sometimes, this kind of stative predication is expressed without copula verbs. Demonstratives can be used, as shown in (32). When this verbless copula construction is negated, a copula verb, /ra/, ‘be’, is introduced with the negative verb, as shown in (33). Once again, this is similar to the standard negation construction.

- (32) xábó il:éŋ
chief.ABS this.M.NOM
'This is the chief.' (MB1-341 00:26:38)

- (33) íṇà il:éŋ l-ára xábó
not.be this.M.NOM SUB-be chief.ABS
'This is not the chief.' (MB1-341 00:26:59)

The following two utterances are examples of proper inclusion (T. E. Payne 1997: 114) or non-referential nominal predicates, (Dryer 2007: 233). Example (35) is the negation of (34). This construction is also similar to standard negation.

- (34) ára íṇé xaitíj:énàní
be 3SG.NOM teacher.ABS
'He/she is a teacher.' (MB1-329 00:17:06)
- (35) íṇà íṇé l-ára xaitíj:énàní
not.be 3SG.NOM SUB-be teacher.ABS
'He/she is not a teacher.' (MB1-329 00:17:12)

Attributive construction or property assignment predicates are usually expressed with a stative verb construction (or intransitive verbal predicate), as shown in (36). The same constructions are used for both permanent and temporary property assignment.

- (36) è-xálàn íṇé bínò
3-be.lazy 3SG.NOM very
'He is very lazy.' (MB1-128 00:37:11)

This kind of expression is negated using standard negation, as shown in (37).

- (37) íṇà nán l-á-xálàn
not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-be.lazy
'I am not lazy.' (MB1-128 00:36:05)

Standard negation can also be used in locative predicate constructions with the copula verb, /w:ɔn/, 'exist', as shown in (38) and (39).

- (38) ò-w:ón mólón dè=jàni
3-exist baboon.NOM in=tree.ABS
'The baboon is in the tree.' (MB1-162 00:38:14)

- (39) íṇà mólón l-ḡ-w:ón dè=jàni
 not.be baboon.NOM SUB-3-exist in=tree.ABS
 ‘The baboon is not in the tree.’ (MB1-171 00:01:45)

Existential predications can overlap with locative predications in some languages (Dryer 2007: 240). However, in Lopit, there are some existential predicates with no overt attribution of a location. An example of an existential predication is given in (40), where the copula verb /w:ón/, ‘exist’, ‘be available’, is used with a dummy subject. The negative existential predication is given in (41) using the negative verb /íṇà/ with no lexical or copula verb. Here, [íṇà] can be translated as ‘there is not’ or ‘there is no’. Negation of this kind of existential (perhaps described as ‘non-locative existential’) is different from standard negation.

- (40) ḡ-w:ón xísón xóná l-ḡ-bwòr
 3-exist cows.ABS of.F.PL SUB-3-be.white
 ‘There are white cows.’ (MB1-341 00:17:51)

- (41) íṇà xísón xóná l-ḡ-ṇórì
 not.be cows.ABS of.F.PL SUB-3-be.green
 ‘There are no green cows.’ (MB1-341 00:18:08)

Another example of a non-locative existential is given in (42). Once again, there is no copula verb in the negative construction. However, it is worth noting that, since the negative clause is subordinate, the negative verb has the third person pronominal prefix (referencing a dummy subject). This is discussed in §2.3

- (42) l-é-ṇà dáká é-jeí xìḡò
 SUB-3-not.be eat.VN 3-die people.NOM
 ‘If there is no food, people die.’ (MB1-341 00:23:35)

A pair of utterances demonstrating a positive and a negative existential with the same forms as (40) and (41) is shown in (43) and (44).

- (43) ḡ-w:ón xìfjôn
 3-exist water.ABS
 ‘There is water.’ (MB1-341 00:21:57)
- (44) íṇà xìfjôn
 not.be water.ABS
 ‘There is no water.’ (MB1-256 00:07:49)

A consultant was asked if one could say the utterance shown in (45). He said that it “will sound incomplete” (MB1-256 00:22:49) and that an utterance like that in (46) would be more acceptable. Example (46) could be regarded as a locative existential construction. This confirms that that standard negation is used in locative predicate constructions but not in non-locative existential constructions.

- (45) íṇà xífjôŋ l-ò-w:ón
not.be water.ABS SUB-3-exist
‘There is no water.’ (MB1-341 00:22:29)
- (46) íṇà xífjôŋ l-ò-w:ón ìní
not.be water.ABS SUB-3-exist here
‘There is no water here.’ (MB1-341 00:23:03)

Possessive predicate constructions can also be negated with the negative verb. In Lopit, the comitative construction /w:ón xɔ/, ‘exist with’, is often used to express possession, as shown in (47). The negative form is shown in (48).

- (47) éí-w:ón íjòxoì xò=dòŋì?
1PL-exist 1PL.NOM with=drums.ABS
‘We have drums.’ (lit. ‘We are with drums.’) (MB1-329 00:06:09)
- (48) íṇà íjòxoì l-éí-w:ón xò=dòŋì?
not.be 1PL.NOM SUB-1PL-exist with=drums.ABS
‘We have no drums.’ (lit. ‘We are not with drums.’) (MB1-329 00:06:09)

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Negation in non-main clauses shows some differences from the standard negation construction. Firstly, the range of pronominal inflections seen on most verbs is usually seen on the negative verb in a subordinate construction. In many subordinate clauses in Lopit, the initial verb is marked with the subordinate marker /l-/ , glossed as ‘SUB’. If this initial verb is the negative verb, then it will have person marking, unlike the negative verb in a simple declarative clause. This is illustrated in the contrast between [íṇà] (49) and [lápà] in (50).

- (49) íṇà náŋ l-á-jíŋ-ú à=xàjì
not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-go-VEN to=house.ABS
‘I didn’t come into the house.’ (MB1-253 00:36:11)

- (50) á-gílò-k nán xɪɔ í-dáxá íteí bì l-á-ɲà
 1SG-think-DAT 1SG.NOM COMP 2-eat.N 2PL.NOM indeed SUB-1SG-not.be
 nán l-á-ɲɪ-ú à=xàɲì
 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-go-VEN to=house.ABS
 ‘I thought you were eating, so I didn’t come into the house.’ (MB1-253
 00:34:07)

In addition, the negative verb can also be marked for modality. An example is given in the conditional clause in (51) (i.e. [áɲaɪɲà nán lámweí], ‘if I were not sick’). The negative verb [áɲaɪɲà] has pronominal marking and the main verb (/mwei/, ‘be sick’) retains its pronominal marking.

- (51) [á-ɲaɪ-ɲà nán l-á-mweí]_p [á-ɲaɪ-ibón nán
 1SG-IRR-not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-be.sick 1SG-IRR-meet 1SG.NOM
 xò=xìjò xùná l-ò-lóɲà]_Q
 with=people.ABS REL.PL SUB-3PL-be.many
 ‘Were I not sick (if I weren’t sick), I would have met many people.’
 (MB1-014 01:25:40)

An example with first-person plural marking is given in (52). It should be noted that the 1PL pronominal marker /ɛɪ-/ is realised as [ɛ] before the prefixes /ɲa-/ and /ɲai-/ as shown in the negative modal construction [ɛɲaɪɲà] in (52).

- (52) ɛ-ɲaɪ-ɲà ɲòxoì l-éí-mweí è-ɲaɪ-ibón ɲòxoì
 1PL-IRR-not.be 1PL.NOM SUB-1PL-be.sick 1PL-IRR-meet 1PL.NOM
 xò=xìjò xùná l-ò-lóɲà
 with=people.ABS REL.PL SUB-3-be.many
 ‘Were we not sick, we would have met many people.’ (MB1-014 01:28:21)

It is also possible for both the protasis (p) and the apodosis (Q) to be negative clauses. This is illustrated in (53). Here, the negative condition is that the hearer does not go to Torit.

- (53) [ɲà nán l-á-wú à=tòrit]_Q [l-í-ɲá ɲé l-í-wú]_p
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-go to=Torit SUB-2-not.be 2SG.NOM SUB-2-go
 ‘I’m not going to Torit if you don’t go.’ (MB1-163 00:03:55)

It should be noted that some other negative constructions involving modality do not have normal pronominal marking. Constructions involving the obligatory prefix /tɛ-/ use the pronominal marker /ɛ-/ for first, second and third person, as illustrated in (54). This is also the case for most non-negative constructions involving the prefix /tɛ-/.

- (54) é-tè-jà íjé l-í-mórò xìjò
 3-OBLIG-not.be 2SG.NOM SUB-2SG-abuse people.ABS
 ‘You shouldn’t abuse people.’ (MB1-267 00:55:09)

In complement clauses, the subordinator is not used on the lexical verbs, as is shown in the second clause in (55) with the verb [òlòtù]. Similarly, the negative verb does not have the subordinating prefix /l-/ as shown in (56). Here the negative verb [ínà] is placed after the complementizer and has the same, lexicalised form as the negative verb in independent clauses, as shown in (2).

- (55) a-íj:én nánj xìjò ò-lòt-ú íjé
 1SG-know 1SG.NOM COMP 3-go-VEN 3SG.NOM
 ‘I know that he is coming.’ (MB1-329 00:19:00)
- (56) a-íj:én nánj xìjò ínà íjé l-ò-lòt-ú
 1SG-know 1SG.NOM COMP not.be 3SG.NOM SUB-3-go-VEN
 ‘I know that he is not coming.’ (MB1-329 00:19:26)

Negation in relative clauses appears to be straightforward. When the action in the relative clause in (57) is negated, the result is (58). The relative clause in (58) can be compared with the corresponding declarative clause [ínà xìwàrú lòt:òxoí ikúdò], ‘The leopard didn’t kill the squirrel’, in (59). The changes to form the negative relative clause are similar to those for other relative clauses. That is, the relative marker /na/ is inserted, the common argument [xìwàrú] is omitted and the verb (in this case [lòjá]) is prefixed with the subordinate marker.

- (57) ó-wòlò íjé xìwàrù [nà l-ò-t:òxo-í ikúdò]
 3-see 3SG.NOM leopard.ABS REL.F SUB-3-kill-ITV squirrel.ABS
 ‘He saw the leopard that killed the squirrel.’ (MB1-255 00:28:20)
- (58) ó-wòlò íjé xìwàrù [nà l-ò-já l-ò-t:òxo-í
 3-see 3SG.NOM leopard.ABS REL.F SUB-3-not.be SUB-3-kill-ITV
 ikúdò]
 squirrel.ABS
 ‘He saw the leopard that didn’t kill the squirrel.’ (MB1-255 00:26:58)
- (59) ó-wòlò íjé xìwàrù ínà xìwàrù l-ò-t:òxo-í
 3-see 3SG.NOM leopard.ABS not.be leopard.NOM SUB-3-kill-ITV
 ikúdò
 squirrel.ABS
 ‘He saw the leopard. The leopard didn’t kill the squirrel.’ (MB1-342 00:39:19)

An example of a sentence where NP_{rel} takes on the object function is given in (60). In this example, the head noun /xiwaru/, ‘leopard’, is relativized as the object of the verb /t:oxo/, ‘kill’. The subject of this verb, [ikùdò], is placed in front of the lexical verb [lòt:òxoí], i.e., in the normal position of a negative clause.

- (60) ó-wòlò ípé xìwàrò [nà l-ò-ɲá íkùdò
 3-see 3SG.NOM leopard.ABS REL.F SUB-3-not.be squirrel.NOM
 l-ò-t:òxo-í]
 SUB-3-kill-ITV
 ‘He saw the leopard that the squirrel didn’t kill.’ (MB1-255 00:26:58)

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Lopit has several verbs which can express negative concepts without the use of the negative verb. These include the verbs /riŋ/, ‘not know’; /tumo/, ‘not know’, ‘be ignorant of’; /miŋa/, ‘not see’; and /diak/, ‘not complete’ and /ɪwɔɪta/, ‘abstain’, ‘not do’. An example with /tumo/ is given in (61).

- (61) ò-túmó ípé ròrí xòná jàni ìn:á
 3-not.know 3SG.NOM things.ABS of.F.PL tree.ABS this.F
 ‘He doesn’t know anything about this tree.’ (MB1-341 00:29:23)

A positive counterpart to (61) can be expressed using the verb /ɪj:ɛn/, ‘know’, as shown in (62).

- (62) a-íj:én nánj ròrí xòná jàni ìn:á
 1SG-know 1SG.NOM things.ABS of.F.PL tree.ABS this.F
 ‘I know something about this tree.’ (MB1-341 00:30:12)

It should be noted that verbs like /tumo/ can also be negated, as shown in (63).

- (63) ípà nánj l-á-túmó ròrí xòná jàni ìn:á
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1-not.know things.ABS of.F.PL tree.ABS this.F
 ‘I know something about this tree.’ (lit. ‘I’m not ignorant about this tree.’)
 (MB1-341 00:29:57)

An example with the verb /miŋa/, ‘not see’, is given in (64).

- (64) é-xì-rwàtá xìjɔ́ íjé x-í-míŋà-rì
 3-PFV-escape and 2SG.NOM SEQ-2-not.see-ITV
 ‘He escaped and you missed seeing it.’ (MB1-307 00:01:59)

The sense of this utterance can also be expressed using the verb /wolo/, ‘see’, in a negative construction. There is, however, a difference in meaning. In (64), the speaker is saying that the hearer was oblivious or was not paying attention. This meaning is also covered in (65) with the extra possibility that the hearer was, in fact, looking out, but did not see it.

- (65) é-xì-rwàtà x-ò-ɲá íjé l-í-wóló
 3-PFV-escape SEQ-3-not.be 2SG.NOM SUB-2-not.see
 ‘He escaped and you didn’t see it.’ (MB1-314 00:16:51)

The verb /rita/, ‘be missing’, is used to convey that someone is not present or able to be found, as shown in (66).

- (66) ó-rúmá íjé xótóɲí l-é-rítà tè=xàɲì
 3-find.N 3SG.NOM mother.ABS SUB-3-be.missing from=house.ABS
 ‘He found his mother missing from the house.’ (MB1-284 00:22:13)

An example using the verb /ɪwɔɪtə/, ‘abstain’, ‘don’t do’, is given in (67). The utterance could be made by someone who has just been offered a drink of beer.

- (67) á-la-íwòítà náj tè=màtà
 1SG-PERSIS-abstain 1SG.NOM from=VN.drink
 ‘I’m still not drinking.’ (lit. ‘I’m still having a break from drinking.’)
 (MB1-037 00:51:21)

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

There is another form of negative verb which appears to be a variation of /ɲa/, ‘not.be’. I am calling it the persistive negative verb, /ɲei/, in contrast to the ‘unmarked’ negative verb, /ɲa/. An example of the persistive is given in (68) with the verb /fanu/, ‘come.PL’. The prefix /le-/ is used to denote that the action is continuing. The negated form of (68) is given in (69), where /ɲei/ is used as a higher verb. This construction is similar to standard negation, except that the lexical verb [èlɛ́fáɲù] does not have the subordinate marker. In addition, in contrast to the verb /ɲa/, /ɲei/ has normal third person marking (i.e. /e-/ and not /i-/). It should be noted that, although I have called /ɲei/ the persistive negative verb, it does not appear to be inflected for the persistive aspect. It could perhaps be called the ‘negative verb associated with the persistive’. It might possibly have been formed from the fusion of /ɲa/ with the itive suffix /-ei/, although it is hard to see any connection between the itive and the persistive.

- (68) è-lé-fànù xájànǎ?
 3-PERSIS-come.PL flies.NOM
 ‘The flies are still coming.’ (or ‘the flies keep coming’) (MB1-252 00:42:37)
- (69) è-pei xájànǎ? è-lé-fànù
 3-not.be flies.NOM 3-PERSIS-come.PL
 ‘The flies have stopped coming.’ (lit. ‘The flies are not still coming.’)
 (MB1-252 00:43:29)

The construction in (69) can be contrasted with that in (70), where the persis-
 tive form of the negative is not used. The [ɪnà] verb is used, and the lexical verb
 has the subordinate marker, which is the standard negation construction.

- (70) ɪnà xájànǎ? l-è-fànù
 not.be flies.NOM SUB-3-come.PL
 ‘The flies did not come.’ (or ‘The flies are not coming.’) (MB1-252 00:48:42)

Another set of examples is shown in (71) and (72). They also illustrate the
 contrast between the negative verb, /ja/, and the persisive negative verb, /pei/.
 In (72), there is the normal pronominal marker /a-/, ‘1SG’, on the verb /pei/ and
 no subordinate marker on the lexical verb [álámátà] in the main clause.

- (71) ɪnà nánj l-á-mát-à kòfí l-ò-lót-ù patrik
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-drink-IPFV coffee.ABS SUB-3-go-VEN Patrick
 ‘I wasn’t drinking coffee when Patrick came.’ (MB1-319 00:54:14)
- (72) á-pei nánj á-lá-mát-à kòfí l-ò-lót-ù patrik
 1-not.be 1SG.NOM 1SG-PERSIS-drink-IPFV coffee.ABS SUB-3-go-VEN Patrick
 ‘I wasn’t drinking coffee anymore when Patrick came.’ (lit. ‘I wasn’t still
 drinking’) (MB1-319 00:54:29)

It can also be used as a verbal noun, /pei/. As shown in (73), /pei/ can be
 translated as ‘lacking’, or ‘not having’. The noun phrase [peɪ nà mòt:ɛ̀jà], ‘lacking
 of friends’, is the subject of the verb /mir/, ‘defeat’. Note that the NP, which
 has absolutive case marking, precedes the verb and the verb is marked with the
 subordinate marker /l-/. This is a fronted construction. This supports the view
 that /pei/ is a noun in this construction.

- (73) è-sám íṅé àrá xàtì ɲeí nà mòt:èjà
3-be.rich 3SG.NOM however VN.not.be.ABS of.F friends.ABS SUB-3-defeat
l-è-mír íṅè
3SG.ABS
'He is rich but suffers from having no friends.' (lit. 'lacking of friends
defeats him') (MB1-273 00:49:38)

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

The word [ínà] is used when answering in the negative, as shown in (75), which is an answer to (74).

- (74) x-í-cá ije dè=ɲùbà
Q-2-dance 2SG.NOM in=Juba
'Have you danced in Juba?' (MB1-142 00:28:20)
- (75) ínà á-cá nánj dè=tòrit ínà xàtì nánj
not.be 1.PFV-dance 1SG.NOM in=Torit not.be however 1SG.NOM
l-á-cá dè=ɲùbà
SUB-1SG-dance in=Juba
'No, I've danced in Torit, but I haven't danced in Juba.' (MB1-142 00:28:47)

The negative answer [ínà] is also used to negate negative questions, indicating that it is used to negate the content of the question. This is illustrated in examples (76) and (77).

- (76) x-óṅà xàtí l-í-wú à=xàṅ
Q-not.be indeed SUB-2-go to=home.ABS
'Aren't you going home?' (MB1-330 00:41:00)
- (77) ínà á-la-ìtílá nánj mòt:è leití
not.be 1SG-PERSIS-wait 1SG.NOM friend.ABS my.M
'No, I'm still waiting for my friend.' (MB1-341 00:12:32)

Another form of negative reply can be made using the word /ɔlɔxɔɲa/, 'not yet', as shown in (78). This word is discussed in §2.1

- (78) Q: x-í-t:òxó íjé ìgè̀m
 Q-2-finish.PFV 2SG.NOM work.ABS
 ‘Did you finish work?’
 A: òlòxó̀pà
 not.yet
 ‘Not yet.’ (MB1-010 01:16:24)

Lopit distinguishes ‘not’ from ‘never’ using the word /lɪŋ/. Example (80) is an answer to the question in (79). If /lɪŋ/ were omitted in (80) the utterance would be translated as ‘I’m not going to Kapoeta’. Note that /lɪŋ/ can also be placed at the end of the utterance.

- (79) x-í-wú isó íjé a=kápwoítà
 Q-2-go FUT 2SG.NOM to=Kapoeta
 ‘Will you go to Kapoeta?’ (MB1-341 00:53:16)
 (80) ípà nánj lɪŋ l-á-wú a=kápwoítà
 not.be 1SG.NOM IDEO SUB-1SG-go to=Kapoeta
 ‘I’m never going to Kapoeta.’ (MB1-341 00:54:17)

The word /lɪŋ/ can be used in a strongly negative reply as shown in (81). It is probably an ideophone, because its lexical meaning is not clear and its position in the word order in the clause is variable (see Moodie & Billington 2020: 347). (See also §4.4 for more discussion of /lɪŋ/.)

- (81) lɪŋ lɪŋ lɪŋ
 IDEO IDEO IDEO
 ‘Never, ever!’ (MB1-341 00:57:08)

3.2 Negative quantifiers and indefinites

Lopit does not have words which correspond to words like ‘nobody’, ‘nothing’, or ‘nowhere’. The equivalent meanings of these words are usually expressed using the negative verb /ŋa/ in combination with words like /nabɔ/, ‘one.F’; /xure/, ‘some.F’; /ŋai/, ‘who’ and /ɲo/, ‘what’. This could be because negation in Lopit appears to be almost exclusively verbal in character and is not observed in affixes or particles.

The Lopit translations of ‘no-one’ or ‘nobody’ can be expressed using the interrogative pronoun, /ŋai/, ‘who’, together with the negative verb /ɲa/. This

can be used when the gender is unknown or if the referents include both males and females. Thus, in (82), /ɲo/ could be interpreted as the indefinite pronoun ‘something’ and, in (83), /ɲai/ could be interpreted as ‘somebody’ or ‘anybody’. The use of interrogatives as indefinite pronouns is cross-linguistically common (Haspelmath 1997: 170–176).

- (82) ɲà ɲo l-ò-w:ón dè=xàjì
not.be what SUB-3-exist in=house.ABS
‘There is nothing in the house.’ (MB1-128 00:27:19)
- (83) á-gí-gíl-ò nán ɲà ɲai l-ò-lòtú
1SG-RED-think-N 1SG.NOM not.be who SUB-3-come
‘I think that nobody is coming.’ (MB1-123 00:22:11)

The following example, (84), shows the use of /xɔ̀lak/, ‘some.M’ together with /ɲa/ to express the equivalent of the English ‘not any’ or ‘no’.

- (84) ɲà xìfjôn xò̀lak
not.be water.ABS some.M
‘There wasn’t any rain.’ (MB1-123 00:12:29)

If the gender of the referents is known, then the words /nabɔ́/, /lobɔ́/ can be used with the noun /toxóni/, ‘person’. In the following example, the quantifier is placed in front of the noun to give the phrase [lóbɔ́ tòxónì]. This is a pragmatically marked position since quantifiers normally follow nouns. This gives special emphasis to the word /lobɔ́/ so that the literal translation of (85) is ‘I think (that) not (even) one man is coming.’

- (85) á-gíl nán ɲà lóbɔ́ tòxónì l-ò-lòt-ù
1SG-believe 1SG.NOM not.be one.M person.NOM SUB-3-go-VEN
‘I think that nobody (M) is coming.’ (MB1-335 01:17:54)

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Most property concepts in Lopit are expressed using property stative verbs. This means that the property concept can be negated by negating the stative verb. This is illustrated in positive example in (86) and the negative one in (87).

- (86) ó-múnó xító leítì
3-be.happy child.NOM my.M
‘My son is happy.’ (MB1-267 00:51:29)

- (87) l-é-pá xítò leítì l-ò-múnò ípà nán
 SUB-3-not.be child.NOM my.M SUB-3-be.happy not.be 1SG.NOM
 l-á-múnò
 SUB-1SG-be.happy
 ‘If my son is not happy, I’m not happy.’ (MB1-267 00:53:49)

Adverbial notions are also often expressed using stative verbs. There are verbs such as /laita/ which is used to express that an event occurred recently. It is difficult to translate directly but conveys something like ‘occurred recently’ or ‘has only recently been in existence’. It is used with a subject, e.g., the nominative form of the pronoun [ípé] in (88), and always requires a verbal noun or infinitive. The negation of (88) is shown in (89) and uses the standard negation construction.

- (88) e-laita-k ípé ɲàijònɲ
 3-be.recent-DAT 3SG.NOM come.VN
 ‘He came recently.’ (MB1-341 00:46:47)
- (89) ípà ípé l-e-laita-k ɲàijònɲ
 not.be 3SG.NOM SUB-3-be.recent-DAT come.VN
 ‘He didn’t come recently.’ (MB1-341 00:45:14)

In Lopit, meanings of absence, opposition and antonymy are expressed with verbal negation rather than with affixes on adjectives, nouns and adverbs. An example of how the meaning of absence or lack is expressed is illustrated in example (90). A coordination construction is used (see §4.5) and the sense of ‘without’ is conveyed with the word /xɔɲa/ (which can be translated as ‘and not’) together with the preposition /xɔ/, ‘with’.

- (90) è-ríbó ípé x-ò-pà xò=bánjí
 3-fight 3SG.NOM SEQ-3-not.be with=fear
 ‘He fights without fear.’ (lit. ‘He fights and not with fear.’) (MB1-342 00:41:51)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Focussed constructions can be expressed in Lopit using cleft constructions. The unmarked vso word order is shown in example (91). When the speaker wants to say that “it was Victor (and no-one else) that I saw”, then an ovs word order is used, as shown in (92).

- (91) á-wóló nán viktòr
 1SG-see 1SG.NOM Victor.ABS
 ‘I see Victor.’ (MB1-341 00:33:41)
- (92) viktòr l-á-wóló nán
 Victor.ABS SUB-1SG-see 1SG.NOM
 ‘(It is) Victor I see.’ (MB1-341 00:36:13)

A focussed object (e.g. Victor) can be the scope of a negative construction, as shown in (93). Here, the standard negation construction is used, except that the subordinate marker is used on the negative verb [lápá], since it has moved from the clause-initial position (as was the case with /lawolo/ on example (92)). Note that the negative verb has the first-person marker /a-/.

- (93) viktòr l-á-pá nán l-á-wóló
 Victor.ABS SUB-1SG-not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-see
 ‘(It is) Victor I do not see.’ (MB1-341 00:36:39)

In (94), the scope of negation is different to that in (93). In (94), the scope of negation is the whole of the utterance in (92), i.e. [viktòr l-á-wóló nán], ‘Victor I see’. Once again, standard negation is used.

- (94) ípà l-ára viktòr l-á-wóló nán dānjèl l-á-wóló
 not.be SUB-3be Victor.ABS SUB-1SG-see 1SG.NOM Daniel SUB-1SG-see
 nán
 1SG.NOM
 ‘It’s not Victor I see, (it’s) Daniel I see.’ (MB1-341 00:40:21)

4.2 Negative polarity

As mentioned in §3.2, Lopit does not have words equivalent to ‘nobody’, ‘none’, ‘anybody’ etc. The words /xure?/, ‘some.F’ and /xɔlak/, ‘some.M’, are used in combination with negation to convey the sense of ‘not any’, as shown in (95).

- (95) ípà íjòxoí l-eí-w:òn xò dònì? xùrê?
 not.be 1PL.NOM SUB-1PL-exist with drums.ABS some.F
 ‘We don’t have any drums.’ (lit. ‘We do not exist with some drums.’)
 (MB1-329 00:07:22)

This contrasts with (96), which is a simpler negative expression.

- (96) ípà íjòxoí l-eí-w:òn xò dònjì?
 not.be 1PL.NOM SUB-1PL-exist with drums.ABS
 ‘We have no drums.’ (lit. ‘We do not exist with drums.’) (MB1-329 00:06:38)

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

There appears to be no effect of case marking under negation, as illustrated with the object [fai], ‘tea.ABS’, in the affirmative and the negative utterances in (97) and (98) respectively. This is not surprising since there are only two cases in Lopit, nominative and absolutive.

- (97) a-íwús-ò nánj fai
 1SG-drink-IPFV 1SG.NOM tea.ABS
 ‘I’m drinking tea.’ (MB1-269 00:29:04)
- (98) ípà nánj l-a-íwús-ò fai
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-drink-IPFV tea.ABS
 ‘I’m not drinking tea.’ (MB1-269 00:32:18)

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Several means of reinforcing negation have been observed. The first is with ideophonic or emphatic adverbs (see §3.1). The word /lɪŋ/, when used in an utterance such as (99) can be translated as ‘really’ or ‘definitely’, although it can also be interpreted as ‘never’ as discussed in §3.1 /lɪŋ/ can be combined with /léfɛ/ to add further emphasis, as shown in (100).

- (99) ípà nánj lɪŋ l-á-wák ijè
 not.be 1SG.NOM IDEO SUB-1SG-like 2SG.ABS
 ‘I really don’t like you.’ (MB1-341 00:54:45)
- (100) ípà nánj l-á-wák ijè léfɛ lɪŋ
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-like 2SG.ABS IDEO IDEO
 ‘I most certainly don’t like you.’ (MB1-341 00:55:23)

Another means is with marked word order. A quantifier will normally follow the noun that it modifies, as shown in (101). However, if the quantifier precedes the noun, as in (102), it will add emphasis. The use of marked word order for pragmatic effect is common in Lopit (see Moodie & Billington 2020: 152)

- (101) íṇà xífjôṇ xòlák l-ò-w:ón
 not.be water.ABS some.M SUB-3-exist
 ‘There isn’t any water.’ (MB1-342 00:09:40)

- (102) íṇà xòlák xífjôṇ l-ò-w:ón
 not.be some.M water.ABS SUB-3-exist
 ‘There isn’t any water.’ (MB1-342 00:10:06)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

The negative verb /ṇa/ can also be used in clause coordination with the sequential marker /x-/. The sequential marker is prefixed to the verb in the second clause of a pair of coordinated clauses, as shown in (103) with the verb /wolo/, ‘see’. In (104), the sequential marker is prefixed to the negative verb to negate the second clause and provide an adversative coordination construction. In this situation, the pronominal marker /ɔ-/ is used. As discussed in §4.6.3, the form /xɔṇa/ is used in Dorik Lopit and not /xṇa/. The lexical verb is in the negated clause, [xòṇà lòwòlò kèrà], is now marked with the subordinating prefix /l-/, as is the case in standard negation. As shown in (105), it is also possible to express the same meaning as (104) using the standard negation form /ṇa/. In this case, coordination is achieved by clause juxtaposition.

- (103) ò-wòlò nánjórúò xísóṇ x-ò-wòlò kèrà
 3-see.PFV wife.NOM cattle.ABS SEQ-3-see.PFV sheep.PL.ABS
 ‘The wife saw cattle and she saw sheep.’ (MB1-064 01:04:20)
- (104) ò-wòlò nánjórúò xísóṇ x-ò-ṇà l-ò-wòlò kèrà
 3-see.PFV wife.NOM cattle.ABS SEQ-3-not.be SUB-3-see.PFV sheep.PL.ABS
 ‘The wife saw cattle but didn’t see sheep.’ (MB1-064 01:04:22)
- (105) ò-wòlò nánjórúò xísóṇ íṇà xàtí l-ò-wòlò kèrà
 3-see.PFV wife.NOM cattle.ABS not.be indeed SUB-3-see.PFV sheep.PL.ABS
 ‘The wife saw cattle; she didn’t see sheep.’ (MB1-064 01:04:10)

Lopit has a type of negation called contrastive negation, which refers to “expressions which are combinations of affirmation and negation in which the focus of negation is replaced in the affirmative part of the expression” (Silvennoinen 2019: 10). These can be negative-first or negative-second constructions. The Lopit examples given here are all negative-second constructions, i.e. [Y not X], where the focus of the affirmative is replaced in the negative part of the expression.

Thus, in (106), the focus of the affirmation is [dè=nàŋ], ‘with me’, and this is changed to [dè=ijè] in the negation expression. In (107), the focus of the affirmation is [dè=xító nà lòmweí], ‘to the girl who is sick’.

- (106) á-gí-gílò nán e-ìfórià ípé dè=nàŋ ìpá l-ára
 1SG-RED-think 1SG.NOM 3-be.angry 3SG.NOM with=1SG.ABS not.be SUB-be
 dè=ijè
 to=2SG.ABS

‘I think he is angry with you, not me.’ (MB1-342 00:23:36)

- (107) á-wák ípé x-ìrò dè=xító nà l-ò-mweí ìpá l-ára
 3-want 3SG.NOM INF-speak to=child REL.F SUB-3-be.sick not.be SUB-be
 dè=xító nà l-ò-múnò bí
 to=child.ABS REL.F SUB-3-be.happy ATT

‘He wants to speak to the sick girl not to the happy one.’ (MB1-257 00:09:35)

One interesting feature of these constructions is that the negation involves the expression /ɪpa lara/. The verb /lara/ cannot be omitted, although it is usually shortened to /la/ in normal discourse. The literal translation of (107) could be something like ‘He wants to speak to the sick child, it is not with the happy one’ or ‘He wants to speak to the sick child, it is not that it is with the happy one.’ It appears to be a rather complex construction, perhaps originating from clausal juxtaposition. More research is required to understand it.

Constructions of the type ‘neither nor’ in Lopit have not been observed.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

Negative transport (neg-raising) can occur in Lopit. Examples are given using the verb /gilo/, ‘believe’. The first example, (108), has a higher-clause negative, which can be interpreted as negating the lower-clause predicate (i.e. negating [òlòtú ípé]). That is, (108) can be interpreted as (109).

- (108) ípà nán l-á-gí-gílò xìfò ò-lòt-ú ípé
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-RED-believe COMP 3-go-VEN 3SG.NOM

‘I don’t think that he is coming.’ (MB1-329 00:22:47)

- (109) á-gí-gílò nánj xìjò íjà íjé l-ò-lòt-ú
 1SG-RED-believe 1SG.NOM COMP not.be 3SG.NOM SUB-3-go-VEN
 ‘I think that he is not coming.’ (MB1-329 00:22:26)

However, it appears that few verbs allow this construction. Examples (108) and (109) are repeated in (110) and (111) with the verb /ij:en/ in place of the verb /gilo/. Both examples are acceptable, but they have different meanings. The higher-clause negative in (110) does not negate the lower-clause predicate [òlòtú íjé].

- (110) íjà nánj l-á-ij:én xìjò ò-lòt-ú íjé
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-know COMP 3-go-VEN 3SG.NOM
 ‘I don’t know that he is coming.’ (MB1-329 00:19:47)
- (111) á-ij:én nánj xìjò íjà íjé l-ò-lòt-ú
 1SG-know 1SG.NOM COMP not.be 3SG.NOM SUB-3-go-VEN
 ‘I know that he is not coming.’ (MB1-329 00:19:26)

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

Two examples of metalinguistic negation have been recorded and they are shown in (112) and (113). More research is needed to determine if these types of expressions are common.

- (112) íjà íjòxoi l-a-wak bálú e-rok íjòxoi bálú
 not.be 1PL.NOM SUB-1-want beer.ABS 3-love 1PL.NOM beer.ABS
 ‘We don’t like beer, we love it!’ (MB1-342 00:18:18)
- (113) íjà íjé l-è-jeità ñòrúò wùník è-jeità ñòrúò
 not.be 3SG.NOM SUB-3-have women.ABS three.ABS 3-have woman.ABS
 mjèt
 five.ABS
 ‘He doesn’t have three wives, he has five!’ (MB1-342 00:19:14)

4.6.3 Diachronic notes and observations

There is not much data available on how negation in Lopit might have developed. It is possible that the form /ɪja/ might have been lexicalised from the verb /ja/ with the second person prefix /ɪ-. Lexicalisation commonly occurs with the third-person prefix. This is observed with the form /xɔja/ used in coordination constructions (§4.5). The alternation of /ɔlxɔja/ and /ɛlexɪja/ and the use of

normal pronominal marking in subordinate clauses and negative modal verbs suggests that this lexicalization has only partially taken place or there is some kind of formal division based on different functions or clause types.

Eastern Nilotic languages use several methods for negation, including a separate verb, a negative prefix and a particle. These are shown for a range of languages in Table 3.³ There does not appear to be much in common amongst the forms of negation.

Table 3: Negation in Eastern Nilotic languages

	particle	prefix	verb
Lopit			<i>ɲa</i>
Otuho			<i>beng</i>
Lokoya	<i>aŋ</i>		
Maa	<i>m̩mɛ</i>	<i>m-</i>	
Turkana	<i>mamaka</i> (lack)	<i>na-</i> ; <i>pe-</i> ; <i>nyi-</i>	
Ateso	<i>mam</i>		<i>mameun</i> (be absent)
Bari	<i>ti</i> ; <i>tine</i>		

Lopit is not the only Eastern Nilotic language which has a verbal negator. Otuho, a neighbouring language, has the negative verb, *beng*, although the two negative verbs appear to be unrelated. The Otuho negative verb has pronominal marking when used in the simple form. Thus, *abeng* in (114) contrasts with [ɪɲà] in (2). Although the word order is the same as in Lopit, the Otuho construction differs in the sense that the lexical verb, *alo*, ‘1SG-go’, is not inflected with dependent morphology.

- (114) Otuho (ISO: **lot**, Glottocode: **otuh1238**)
 a-beng dwo ni a-lo
 1SG-not.be IMM.PST 1SG 1SG-go
 ‘I didn’t go there.’ (Muratori 1938: 339)

5 Conclusions

Negative constructions and elements are listed in Table 4, together with their respective functions. Negation in Lopit almost always involves a verbal construc-

³References: Otuho (Muratori 1938); Lokoya (Westermann 1944); Maa (Tucker & Mpaayei 1955); Turkana (Dimmendaal 1983); Ateso (Barasa 2017); Bari (Spagnolo 1933)

tion in a complex clause. In declarative, interrogative and subordinate constructions, the verb /*na*/ is used to negate the lexical verb. The construction is bi-clausal in that there are two finite verbs, a 'higher negative' verb and a finite lexical verb. The negative verb is often expressed as /*ɪna*/, which is probably a fused form. In some cases (e.g. subordinate constructions) it has normal pronominal marking and it can also be marked for modality. The exact nature of the bi-clausal construction is not clear, but it is similar to other auxiliary-like constructions in the language.

In imperatives, a different construction is used. This involves the verb /*idek*/, 'stop', 'leave', together with the prefix /*xar-*/ on the lexical verb.

In stative predications, the copula verbs /*ra*/, 'be', and /*w:ɔn*/, 'exist', are often used and these can be negated with /*na*/. There are also some verbless stative predicates. These are normally negated with the standard negation construction with the introduction of a copula verb. There is one significant exception to this. Non-locative existential predications are negated using the negative verb /*ɪna*/ only, with no lexical or copula verb. Locative existential predicates are negated with the negative verb and the copula verb /*w:ɔn*/.

In Lopit, there appear to be no negative quantifiers or indefinites. The equivalent meanings of these kinds of words are usually expressed using negation in combination with positive quantifiers and indefinites. Some indefinites in negative constructions are expressed using the negation and an interrogative pronoun.

Most property concepts in Lopit are expressed using property stative verbs. The property concept can be negated by negating the stative verb. Verbal negation is used rather than affixes on noun, adjectives and adverbs.

Table 4: Negative constructions and their functions

construction	function	section
<i>ɪna</i> + SUB-LV	negation of declarative clauses	§2.1
	negation of complement clauses	§2.3
	negation of stative property verbs	§2.3, 3.3
SUB-PRO- <i>na</i> + SUB-LV	negation in adverbial, relative and conditional clauses	§2.3
<i>xɔna</i> + SUB-LV	negation in coordinated clauses	§4.5
	negation of interrogatives	§2.2.2
PRO-modal.prefix- <i>na</i> + SUB-LV	negation involving modality	§2.3
PRO- <i>nei</i> + PRO-PERSIS-LV.root	negation of the persistive aspect	§2.5
<i>idek</i> + <i>xar</i> -verb.root	negative imperatives	§2.2.1
<i>ɪna</i> + SUB-copula.verb	negation of most stative predications	§2.3
<i>ɪna</i>	negation of non-locative existentials	§2.3
<i>ɪna</i> + Q.PRO + SUB-LV	negative quantifier (‘nobody’, ‘nothing’)	§3.2
<i>ɪna</i> + quantifier + SUB-LV	negative quantifier (‘none’, ‘nobody’)	§3.2
<i>ɪna</i>	negative answer (‘no’)	§3.1
<i>lɪŋ</i>	negative intensifier, never	§3.1, 4.4
<i>ɔlɔxɔna</i> , <i>ɛlexɪna</i>	‘not yet’	§2.1, 3.1

Abbreviations

1	first person	ITV	itive
2	second person	LV	lexical verb
3	third person	M	masculine
ABS	absolutive	MID	middle voice
ATR	advanced tongue root	N	neutral
AUX	auxiliary	NEG	negative
CAUS	causative	NOM	nominative
COMP	complementizer	OBLIG	obligative
COND	conditional	PERSIS	persistive
CONT	continuative	PFV	perfective
DAT	dative (applicative)	PL	plural
DTR	detransitivizer	POT	potential
F	feminine	PRO	pronoun
FUT	future	PST	past
IDEO	ideophone	Q	question marker
II	class II	RED	reduplication
IMM	immediate	REL	relative marker
IMP	imperative	SUB	subordinator
INF	infinitive	SEQ	sequential (or narrative)
INSTR	instrumental	SG	singular
IPFV	imperfective	VEN	venitive
IRR	irrealis	VN	verbal noun

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Negation in Gyeli

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The northwestern Bantu language Gyeli exhibits negation features that are generally little discussed explicitly in the Bantu literature regarding the relationship between affirmative constructions and their negative counterparts. All clausal negation types in Gyeli are asymmetric in Miestamo's (2005, 2007) sense. Constructional asymmetries include tone changes and changes in finiteness, while paradigmatic asymmetries mostly concern TAM neutralization; aspect marking is generally lost under negation (unless it is specifically marked in an embedded clause). The negation pattern in the present tense is distinct from other tense-mood categories in its morphological negation marking strategy and a higher degree of asymmetries. The present tense-mood category also allows a choice between different negation markers that are linked to information structure and focus marking.

Keywords: TAM systems, tonal morphology, Bantu, negation, information structure.

1 Introduction

Gyeli (ISO: [gyi](#), Glottocode: [gyel1242](#)) is an endangered Bantu A80 language spoken by so-called “Pygmy” hunter-gatherers in the rain forest of southern Cameroon. The language is also known under the names Gyle, Kola, Bagielli, or Bakola, while the speakers call themselves Bagyeli or Bakola depending on the region where they live: in the northern part, the term Bakola is used, in the central and southern part Bagyeli. Speaker numbers are estimated to range between 4,000 and 5,000 (*Ethnologue*, [Ngima Mawoung 2001](#)). The speech community is dispersed over a vast area of about 12,500 km² which they share with eight other ethnic groups: Batanga, Bakoko, Basaa, Ewondo, Bulu, Fang, Yasa, and Kwasio. These groups all speak other Bantu A languages and are all agriculturalists and/or fishermen (rather than forest foragers).

Speakers are currently changing their traditional way of life due to massive changes in the environment. In 2015, the biggest deep sea port for central Africa

was inaugurated just off the shore where the Bagyeli live, resulting in a significant increase in infrastructure development which leads to a loss of rain forest and as such loss of the animals that the Bagyeli as hunter-gatherers depend on. As a consequence, the Bagyeli are being forced to give up hunting and rely more on farming just as their neighboring communities. In the course of this subsistence change, the Bagyeli are also shifting to the languages of other Bantu groups. This shift is reinforced by the low prestige of the language and the marginalization of the Bagyeli within Cameroonian society at large. Different dialects of Gyeli are currently emerging, depending on which language a particular Gyeli group is mostly in contact with. There is no standard variety of Gyeli, which correlates with the lack of an official written language. Instead, Gyeli is currently used orally only. The conventions in Grimm's (2021) description, however, have been informed by speakers' preferences and are potentially a first step towards a written form of Gyeli. In general, everybody in this area, both Bagyeli and other Bantu groups, are multilingual and speak easily up to five languages. In contrast to the farming Bantu groups of Cameroon, the Bagyeli generally do not speak the colonial language French or speak it less fluently, since Bagyeli children receive less or no schooling.

The main work that exists on the Gyeli language consists of a description of the phonology and nominal morphology in the Kwasio and Basaa contact region by Renaud (1976) and Grimm's (2021) reference grammar of the Gyeli variety spoken in the village Ngolo in the Bulu contact region. A documentary corpus of Gyeli is available in *The Language Archive*, including natural texts and elicitations (Grimm et al. 2020). Data for this paper were obtained during fieldwork in Cameroon between 2010 and 2017 as part of the language documentation and grammar-writing project. A detailed description of consulted speakers and the various methodologies used is provided in Grimm (2021: 28–29).

Linguistically, Gyeli is an S V O (X), head-initial language. It features a gender system with nine agreement classes and six genders.¹ In comparison to eastern and southern Bantu languages, Gyeli is more analytic and has, for instance, a limit of three syllables in verb stems. Also, Gyeli is a tone language, phonologically distinguishing H, L, HL, LH, and toneless tone bearing units, which encode both lexical and grammatical distinctions.

In this paper, I first discuss clausal negation in §2, distinguishing standard negation from non-standard negation marking. In §3, I describe aspects of non-clausal negation, including negative replies and the absence of negative indefi-

¹In the examples in this chapter, only agreement classes are indicated in glossing nominal prefixes. In Grimm (2021), I also indicate noun prefix classes in my glosses.

nites, quantifiers, and derivation. §4 touches on other aspects of negation, such as the scope of negation, negative polarity, and negation in complex clauses.

2 Clausal negation

Following Miestamo (2005: 42) and later accounts of negation typology (van der Auwera & Krasnoukhova 2020), I distinguish standard from non-standard negation strategies. Miestamo (2005: 42) defines standard negation as “the productive and general means of negating declarative verbal main clauses.”

The remainder of this section is structured as follows: in §2.1, I describe standard negation with subsections on constructional and paradigmatic asymmetries between positive verbal clauses and their negative counterparts. §2.2 describes negation in non-declaratives, including questions, imperatives, and subjunctives. The negation of stative predications is discussed in §2.3, while non-main clauses and their negation strategies are explored in §2.4.

2.1 Standard negation

In this section, I first introduce the negative markers (§2.1.1). In §2.1.2, I introduce negation asymmetries, presenting constructional asymmetries in detail in §2.1.3 and paradigmatic asymmetries in §2.1.4.

2.1.1 Negative markers

Gyeli has three standard negation markers, each for different tense-mood categories, as shown in Table 1. Regarding the typology of morphological versus syntactic negation marking (Dahl 1979, Payne 1985), most negation markers in Gyeli are auxiliaries and thus of the syntactic type (see Table 5). The only morphological negation marker is found in present tense negation. This marker is a circumfix, consisting of a segmental suffix *-le* and a H tone co-exponent that attaches to the left of the verb, spreading rightwards. The negation auxiliaries are morphologically complex with a final syllable *-le* that seems related to the present negation. Synchronically, however, the auxiliaries cannot be parsed into lexical and negation morphemes. I therefore consider them monomorphemic.

Examples for each negation marker and its affirmative counterpart are given in (1–3).² The tone rules are explained in §2.1.2. In a nutshell, tone patterns on the preverbal clitic and the verb differ depending on the tense-mood category they

²Further example sentences in §2.1.3 and §2.1.4 illustrate the different types of asymmetries.

Table 1: Markers of standard clausal negation in Gyeli

Negation marker	Status	Distribution
Standard negation		
H...-lɛ	negation circumfix	present
sàlé/pálé	negation auxiliary	past tenses
kálè	negation auxiliary	future

encode as well as on a phrase-medial versus phrase-final position of the verb and polarity. They are not conditioned by the lexical tone of the verb.

- (1) a. bá dé bédéwò
ba-H dè-H H\be-déwò
2-PRS eat-R OBJ.LINK\8-food
‘They eat food.’
- b. bá délé bédéwò
ba-H dè-lɛ H\be-déwò
2-PRS eat-NEG OBJ.LINK\8-food
‘They don’t eat food.’
- (2) a. bà dé bédéwò
ba dè-H H\be-déwò
2.REC.PST eat-R OBJ.LINK\8-food
‘They ate food.’
- b. bà **sàlé/pálé** dè bédéwò
ba **sàlé/pálé** dè H\be-déwò
2.REC.PST NEG.PST eat OBJ.LINK\8-food
‘They didn’t eat food.’
- (3) a. báà dè bédéwò
báà dè H\be-déwò
2.FUT eat OBJ.LINK\8-food
‘They will eat food.’
- b. báà **kálè** dè bédéwò
báà **kálè** dè H\be-déwò
2.FUT NEG.FUT eat OBJ.LINK\8-food
‘They won’t eat food.’

2.1.2 Introducing negation asymmetries

Gyeli negation is asymmetric in [Miestamo's \(2007\)](#) sense with structural differences between affirmatives and their negative counterparts, which mostly play out in the tonal patterns of the verb stem and the preverbal portmanteau morpheme “STAMP”, which encodes subject agreement, tense, aspect, mood, and polarity. These differences are both constructional and paradigmatic, as discussed in detail below.

In order to follow my argumentation on negation asymmetries, it is important to understand how Gyeli encodes tense categories in affirmative basic verbal predicates. The primary marking of tense in affirmative clauses is tonal, unlike negation marking, which is achieved primarily through segmental material (morphological and syntactic markers). The combinations of tonal patterns on the STAMP morpheme, a preverbal clitic, and the verb stem instantiate seven distinct categories, as shown in [Table 2](#).

Table 2: Tonal patterns of affirmative tense-mood categories

Basic distinction	TM category	STAMP	Verb Stem	Verb Tone	Gloss
non-past	PRS	yá	dè	L	‘We eat.’
	INCH	yàá	dè		‘We are at the beginning of eating.’
	FUT	yáà/mèè	dè		‘We/I will eat.’
past	REC.PST	yà	dé	H	‘We ate (recently).’
	REM.PST	yáà	dé		‘We ate (a long time ago).’
tenseless	IMP	(yá)	dê	HL	‘Let’s eat!’
	SBJV	yá	dée		‘May we eat.’

Tense is intrinsically linked to mood marking, distinguishing realis and irrealis. Each tense inherently belongs to either the realis or the irrealis mood. I refer to these categories as “tense-mood” (TM) categories. Mood is marked overtly only for the realis category by an H tone that attaches to the right of the verb stem – if the verb is not phrase-final. If the verb is phrase-final, mood marking tones do not surface, as I show below. In fact, the only inflection marking on finite verbs is mood marking opposing realis (with H) and irrealis (no H) categories.

The presence of the realis marking H tone is conditioned by the specific TM category and not morphosyntactic material following the verb since all parts of speech following the verb trigger the syntactic tone to surface. This is the case, for instance, in present affirmative clauses, as in [\(4\)](#), where a range of different

word classes that follow the finite verb trigger a final H tone on the verb. I gloss this H tone as R for realis.

- (4)
- | | | | |
|----|--------------------------|--------------------------|----------|
| a. | mé gyámbò | ‘I cook.’ | |
| b. | mé gyámbó bé-kwàndò | ‘I cook plantains.’ | ___ N |
| c. | mé gyámbó byô | ‘I cook it.’ | ___ PRO |
| d. | mé gyámbó ndáà | ‘I cook today.’ | ___ ADV |
| e. | mé gyámbó é kisiní dé tù | ‘I cook in the kitchen.’ | ___ PREP |
| f. | mé gyámbó nà wómbèlè | ‘I cook and sweep.’ | ___ CONJ |
| g. | mé wúmbé gyámbò | ‘They want to cook.’ | ___ V |

Table 3 shows which affirmative and negative tense categories are linked to which mood category. Thus, basic verbal clauses in the present, inchoative, recent, and remote past as realis categories always surface with a final H on the finite verb, while finite verbs in the irrealis categories of future, imperative, and subjunctive end in a non-H tone. The surface tones of H versus non-high clearly partition the tense-mood categories into realis/irrealis, constituting a semantic pattern that should not be easily dismissed as an arbitrary phonological pattern. Past negative auxiliaries *sàlé* and *pálé* are in the realis category, just like their affirmative counterparts. Mood category alignment is also found with the irrealis future in both affirmative and negative. Only the present switches from a realis category in the affirmative to irrealis under negation (see §2.1.4 on paradigmatic asymmetries).

Table 3: Distribution of realis and irrealis categories

	H tone presence → Realis	H tone absence → Irrealis
Affirmative	present inchoative recent past remote past	future imperative subjunctive
Negative	past negatives	present future negative

Having outlined the tense-mood marking system of basic verbal predicates in affirmatives, I now turn to describing the asymmetries that occur under negation.

2.1.3 Constructional asymmetries

Standard clausal negation is constructionally asymmetric with both the negation circumfix H-...-lɛ and the negation auxiliaries *sàlɛ/pálɛ* and *kálɛ*, although the nature of the asymmetry differs between the morphological and the syntactic negation strategies.

With the negation circumfix H-...-lɛ in the present tense-mood category, the STAMP changes its tonal pattern (and vowel length) under negation, but only for the first and second person singular and agreement class 1. These person markers receive a long vowel with a rising tone, as shown for the first person singular in (5).

- (5) a. **mé** dé bédéwò
 mɛ-H dè-H H\be-déwò
 1SG-PRS eat-R OBJ.LINK\8-food
 ‘I eat food.’
- b. **mɛ́ɛ** délé bédéwò
 mɛ́ɛ dè-lɛ H\be-déwò
 1SG.PRS.NEG eat-NEG OBJ.LINK\8-food
 ‘I don’t eat food.’

All other STAMP morphemes (first and second person plural and agreement classes 2 through 9) are not subject to this asymmetry and retain their H tone pattern on the STAMP under negation, as shown with agreement class 2 in (1). In these cases, negation is symmetric.

The asymmetry of negation auxiliaries *sàlɛ/pálɛ* in past tenses and *kálɛ* in the future concerns a change in finiteness. This type of asymmetry is what Miestamo (2007) calls “A/Fin/NegVerb”. In affirmative simple verbal predicates, the lexical verb is also the finite verb, as in (6a). In contrast, under negation, the negation auxiliary becomes the finite element (as seen also above in (2) and (3)), while the lexical verb is not inflected for realis marking, as shown in (6b) for the recent past. The remote past and the future are structurally identical to (6b).

- (6) a. **mè** gyám**bó** bélòlò
 mɛ gyámbo-H H\be-lòlò
 1SG.REC.PST cook-R OBJ.LINK\8-duck
 ‘I cooked ducks.’

- b. mē sàlé gyám̩bò bélòlò
 mē sàlé gyám̩bò H\be-lòlò
 1SG.PST NEG.PST.R cook OBJ.LINK\8-duck
 ‘I did not cook ducks.’
- c. mé wúmbé gyám̩bò bélòlò
 mē-H wúmbē-H gyám̩bò H\be-lòlò
 1SG-PRS want-R cook OBJ.LINK\8-duck
 ‘I want to cook ducks.’

As negation auxiliaries never occur in isolation, i.e. outside of a complex predicate, their underlying tonal structure cannot be proven. I still argue that negation auxiliaries become the finite verbal element in complex predicates based on their parallel structure to modal auxiliaries such as *wúmbē* ‘want’ in (6c). Modal auxiliaries serve as the finite element in complex predicates, while the realis marking H tone is consistently absent on the lexical verb *gyám̩bò* ‘cook’.

2.1.4 Paradigmatic asymmetries

All standard negation strategies in verbal clauses are also subject to paradigmatic asymmetries. First, the present tense switches from a realis mood category in affirmative clauses to an irrealis category under negation with the circumfix *H...-lɛ*. Example (7) shows that the realis marking H tone is present in the affirmative clause, but absent in its negative counterpart.

- (7) a. Àdà á gyàgá mábèlé
 Àdà a-H gyàga-H H\ma-bèlé
 Ø.1.PN 1-PRS buy-R OBJ.LINK\6-kola.nut
 ‘Ada buys kola nuts.’
- b. Àdà àá gyágàlè mábèlé
 Àdà àá H-gyàga-lɛ H\ma-bèlé
 Ø.1.PN 1.PRS.NEG NEG-buy-NEG OBJ.LINK\6-kola.nut
 ‘Ada does not buy kola nuts.’

Instead of simply lacking the realis marking H tone, however, the tone assignment rules for the present negation are different than for the affirmative realis/irrealis distinction. First, the STAMP marker takes a different form in the first and second person singular and in agreement class 1 with a long LH vowel instead of a plain H morpheme, as shown in §2.1.3 for a constructional asymmetry. Second, the surface tone of the verb is determined by the tonal co-exponent of the present

negation circumfix /H-...-lé/, leaving no underlyingly toneless Tone Baring Units that could host a realis marking H tone. Only the radical, i.e. the first syllable within Gyeli verb stems, is specified for a lexical tone, which is either H or L. Second and third syllables are synchronically and/or diachronically extension morphemes³ and underlyingly toneless. They receive their tonal specification through their phonological environment or the attachment of grammatical tone melodies. In the case of negation with H...-lé, the H tone attaches to the left of the verb and spreads rightwards onto the negation suffix -lé. Verbs with an H verb radical thus surface all H, as shown in (8).⁴

- (8) a. H → H
pê ‘choose’ > pé-lé
b. H Ø → H H
síme ‘respect’ > símé-lé
c. H Ø Ø → H H H
líyélé ‘show’ > líyé-lé

Verb radicals that are specified L are featurally changed to H. In monosyllabic verbs, this H tone spreads onto the negation suffix, as shown in (9).

- (9) L → H
dè ‘eat’ > dé-lé

In bi- and trisyllabic verb stems with an L radical, however, only the radical is changed to H. In these cases, the H does not spread to the second and third toneless syllable nor to the negation suffix, as illustrated in (10).

- (10) a. L Ø → H L
gyàga ‘buy’ > gyága-lè
b. L Ø Ø → H L L
vìdèga ‘turn’ > vídègà-lè

The realis/irrealis distinction is not generally lost under negation (see Table 3 for the distribution of mood categories). In the case of the past negation markers *sàlé/pálé*, the final H tone marks realis, as shown in (6b). In contrast, the

³Extension morphemes in Bantu languages occur between the verb root and the final vowel and serve valency-changing purposes, encoding categories such as causative, applicative, reciprocal and passive.

⁴Monosyllabic H verbs as in (8a) surface HL, due to a lowering rule for this specific syllable type.

future negation marker *kálè* with its final L tone belongs in the irrealis category, just like its affirmative counterpart, as illustrated in (3b). The present is the only tense-mood category that switches from realis in the affirmative to irrealis under negation. Miestamo (2007) refers to this type as “A/NonReal”.

The second paradigmatic asymmetry concerns the neutralization of all (grammaticalized) aspect categories under negation (except for the non-complete accomplishment (NCA) *síle* ‘finish’). This also includes the inchoative, which formally clusters with tense-mood categories and which is subsumed under the present tense-mood category when negated, as shown in (11).

- (11) a. yàá dé mántúà
 yàá dè-H H\ma-ntúà
 1PL.INCH eat-R OBJ.LINK\6-mango
 ‘We are at the beginning of eating mangoes.’
 b. yá/*yàá délé mántúà
 ya-H dè-lɛ H\ma-ntúà
 1PL-PRS/*1PL.INCH eat-NEG OBJ.LINK\6-mango
 ‘We do not eat mangoes.’

Aspect marking in Gyeli is optional and mostly achieved through auxiliary verbs in affirmative constructions. As Table 4 shows, most aspect markers are restricted to a specific tense-mood category. As a result, the form of the STAMP marker is restricted as well, as generally illustrated by the agreement class 2 STAMP marker. For instance, aspect markers that can only occur in the present tense have always an L tone STAMP. Those restricted to past categories allow the STAMP markers for both recent and remote past, illustrated by *bà* and *báà*. The prospective marker *múà* is special in that the STAMP clitic for the first and second person singular and agreement class 1 take an L tone, as shown with *mè* for the first person singular in Table 4, while all others have an H tone, shown by *bá*. The aspect categories that have no tense-mood restriction allow all STAMP forms. Aspect markers without translations in Table 4 have no lexical meaning.

As a consequence of aspect neutralization under negation, the negated sentence is only marked for tense-mood, but not for aspect. The past progressive auxiliary *nzí*, for instance, is lost under negation and replaced by the past negation auxiliary, as in (12).

- (12) a. yà nzí dè mántúà
 ya nzí dè H\ma-ntúà
 1PL.PST PROG.PST eat OBJ.LINK\6-mango
 ‘We were eating mangoes.’

Table 4: Aspect markers in Gyeli

Status	Aspect marker	STAMP	TM restriction	Function
Grammaticalized verbs	<i>nzíí</i>	<i>bà</i>	PRS	PROG
	<i>nzí</i>	<i>bà, báà</i>	PST	PROG
	<i>nzéé</i>	<i>bà</i>	SUB	PROG
	<i>pá</i> ‘do first’	all forms	none	PRIOR
Verbs with lexical meaning	<i>ló</i> ‘come’	<i>bá</i>	PRS	RETRO
	<i>bwàà</i> ‘have’	<i>bà, báà</i>	PST	PRF
	<i>múà</i> ‘be’	<i>mé, bá</i>	FUT	PROSP
	<i>síle</i> ‘finish’	all forms	none	NCA
Reduplication	stem-stem	<i>bá</i>	PRS	HAB
Postverbal	<i>mò</i>	<i>bà</i>	REC.PST	COMPL

- b. *yà sàlé/pálé dè mántúà*
 ya.PST sàlé/pálé dè H\ntúà
 1PL.PST NEG.PST eat OBJ.LINK\6-mango
 ‘We did not eat mangoes.’

It is impossible to combine aspect and negation markers in a main clause for the reason that more than one grammaticalized auxiliary in a construction, not counting modal semi-auxiliaries, is prohibited (13a). Also with aspect auxiliaries that are restricted to the present tense-mood category, the attachment of the present negation circumfix H...-lé, as in (13b), is not allowed.

- (13) a. * *yà sàlé/pálé nzí/ì dè mántúà*
 ya sàlé/pálé nzí/ì dè H\ma-ntúà
 1PL.PST NEG.PST PROG.PST eat OBJ.LINK\6-mango
 ‘We were not eating mangoes.’
- b. * *yà nzílé dè mántúà*
 ya nzí-lé dè H\ma-ntúà
 1PL.PST PROG.PST-NEG eat OBJ.LINK\6-mango
 ‘We were not eating mangoes.’

Aspect and negation can only be combined through embedded clauses with

negation expressed in the matrix and aspect expressed in the dependent clause, as shown in (14).

- (14) mè sàlé/pálé bè [mè nzéé dè mántúà]
 mɛ sàlé/pálé bè mɛ nzéé dè H\ma-ntúà
 1SG.PST PST.NEG be 1SG.PST PROG.SUB eat OBJ.LINK\6-mango
 ‘I was not eating mangoes.’ (lit. ‘I was not that I am eating mangoes.’)

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Non-declarative sentences comprise questions as well as imperatives and subjunctives. In Gyeli, questions (§2.2.1) follow the standard negation patterns, whereas negated imperatives (§2.2.2) and negated subjunctives (§2.2.3) require non-standard negation strategies.

Imperative and subjunctive constructions are generally expected to behave differently under negation. Nurse (2008) posits that Bantu languages tend to have different negation strategies based on sentence types, commonly opposing negation in main versus dependent and indicative versus subjunctive clauses. While Gyeli imperatives and subjunctives indeed require a non-standard negation strategy, one cannot, however, make a case for a neat dichotomy between imperative/subjunctive and indicative clauses. The reason for this is that both the imperative negation with *tí* and the subjunctive negation with *dúú* are also found in (some) negated main clauses in the present tense-mood category. Both non-standard negation markers are asymmetric, including shifts in finiteness and tonal changes.

2.2.1 Negation in questions

Just like in declarative sentences, the form of the negation marker in questions is determined by the tense-mood category with which it appears (Table 1). Negated questions are also subject to the same constructional and paradigmatic asymmetries described in §2.1.3 and §2.1.4.

The type of question, e.g. polar questions or constituent questions, has no impact on the type of negation strategy. (15) shows an example of a polar question, where only the question marker *nà* indicates that it is not an affirmative sentence.

- (15) a. *nà wé nyé nyê*
 nà wɛ-H nyê-H nyê
 Q 2SG-PRS see-R 1.OBJ
 ‘Do you see him/her?’

- b. nà wèé nyélé nyê
 nà wèé nyê-le nyê
 Q 2SG.PRS.NEG see-NEG 1.OBJ
 'Don't you see him/her?'

Constituent questions employ animacy-based interrogative pronouns for all argument types, as for instance an object in a double object construction in (16). The negated counterpart follows the standard negation strategy (§2.1) with different negation markers for different tense-mood categories and both constructional and paradigmatic asymmetries.

- (16) a. nzá àà vê béfùmbí
 nzá àà vê H\be-fùmbí
 who 1.FUT give OBJ.LINK\8-orange
 'To whom will s/he give oranges?'
 b. nzá àà kálè vê béfùmbí
 nzá àà kálè vê H\be-fùmbí
 who 1.FUT NEG.FUT give OBJ.LINK\8-orange
 'To whom won't s/he give oranges?'

2.2.2 Non-standard negation with *tí*

The primary use of *tí* is to negate imperatives.⁵ Positive imperatives have three different construction types, as shown in (17). The verbal imperative form is always marked by an HL tone pattern (Table 2). In (17a), the addressee is a single individual and the imperative verb occurs without any person marking. In contrast, if there are multiple addressees, a postverbal plural particle is used, as in (17b). In a cohortative construction, as in (17c), both the first person plural subject marker and the postverbal plural particle are used.

- (17) a. dē
 'Eat (SG)!'
 b. dē ngà
 'Eat (PL)!'

⁵I could not discern any clear lexical meaning for *tí*. Out of context, speakers will translate it as 'without', but this is probably because the derived use of *tí* as a privative preposition, as discussed below, is the only case where a lexical translation equivalent can be found.

- c. yá dê ngà
 ya-H dê nga
 1PL-PRS eat.SBJV PL
 ‘Let’s eat!’

In negated imperatives, as in (18), the lexical verb is preceded by the negative auxiliary *tí*. Negated imperatives are subject to a constructional asymmetry pertaining to finiteness that is shifted from the lexical verb to the auxiliary. This shift in finiteness formally manifests in two ways. First, the HL pattern on positive imperatives is lost and the lexical verb surfaces with its underlying lexical tones. Second, the plural particle follows the auxiliary and not the lexical verb.

- (18) a. *tí* *dè*
 ‘don’t (SG) eat!’
 b. *tí* *ngá* *dè*
 ‘don’t (PL) eat!’
 c. yá *tí* ngá *dè*
 ya-H *tí* nga *dè*
 1PL-PRS NEG PL eat
 ‘Let’s not eat!’

The negative auxiliary *tí* is also used in three non-imperative constructions. First, it appears as a negation marker in present tense main clauses. The choice between the standard present tense negation circumfix H...-lɛ (§2.1) and the non-standard negation auxiliary *tí* in present tense main clauses relates to information structure principles and an immediate-after-verb focus position.⁶ If the standard negation circumfix is used, as in (19a), the negation itself, thus the truth value, is in focus. This could be, for instance, as a contradiction to a statement such as ‘You are eating’. In contrast, if *tí* is used, as in (19b), the lexical verb is in focus position. The two constructions therefore serve to disambiguating the scope of negation; more information on scope under negation is provided in §4.1.

⁶There are two ways to classify *tí* with respect to its status as standard or non-standard negation marker. Since *tí* is a productive means for negating declarative verbal main clauses (in the present tense), it could be analyzed as standard negation. However, since it is part of a special focus construction, it is not the neutral way of negating the present tense, which speaks against treating it as standard negation. I adopt the latter analysis.

- (19) a. mɛ́ɛ délé
 mɛ́ɛ dé-lé
 1SG.PRS.NEG eat-NEG
 ‘[You are eating.] – I **don’t** eat.’
- b. mɛ́ tí dè
 mɛ́ tí dè
 1SG NEG eat
 ‘I don’t eat [I drink].’

Second, *tí* is used in nominal clauses as the privative preposition ‘without’ (§3.3), and third, *tí* serves as a negative subordinator (§4.5).

2.2.3 Non-standard negation with *dúù*

The second non-standard negation marker *dúù* is a true auxiliary in Gyeli, which is defined by its tense-mood restriction to the present and subjunctive category. This is different from other modal verbs, such as *wúmbe* ‘want’ or *lèmbo* ‘know’, which can occur in every tense-mood category and are thus semi-auxiliaries. *dúù* serves as the negative counterpart of two affirmative constructions. First, it negates the modal verb *yáne* ‘must’ by replacing it, as shown in (20). This construction shows constructional asymmetry in that the modal of the affirmative is replaced by the negative auxiliary. The positive and the negative are aligned, however, in the mood category, as both take the realis marking H tone.

- (20) a. bé dúú vùù
 be-H dúù-H vùù
 2PL-PRS must.not-R worry
 ‘You (PL) should/must not worry.’
- b. bé yáne vùù
 be-H yáne-H vùù
 2PL-PRS must-R worry
 ‘You (PL) should/must worry.’

Second, the auxiliary *dúù* is also used to negate subjunctive clauses, as in (21). These subjunctive clauses are constructionally asymmetric, since the finiteness is shifted from the lexical verb in the affirmative to the auxiliary under negation.

- (21) a. bé dúù kè tísònì
 be-H dúù kè tísònì
 2PL-PRS must.not.SBJV go Ø.7.town
 ‘You (PL) may/should not go to town.’

- b. bé kɛ̀ɛ̀ tísò̀nì
 be-H kɛ̀ɛ̀ tísò̀nì
 2PL-PRS go.SBJV Ø.7.town
 ‘You (PL) may/should go to town.’

The use of *dúù* as negating a modal or the subjunctive is clearly marked by its distinct tonal patterns. In modal negation in (20a), it takes the realis marking H tone of the present tense-mood category. In subjunctive negation, as in (21a), it surfaces with the subjunctive HL pattern without the realis marking H tone.

Just like the other non-standard negation marker *tí*, *dúù* is also used in dependent clauses (§2.4).

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Gyeli has four types of non-verbal predications in affirmative present tense clauses, following Payne’s (1997) classification of non-verbal clauses. In Gyeli, the different types are marked by different copulas and/or differences in constituent order. In other tenses than the present and under negation, these copulas are replaced by an inflected form of the verb *bɛ̀* ‘be’. There is no difference in the encoding of permanent versus temporary property assignment, neither in affirmative nor negated sentences.

The most frequent copula in present affirmative non-verbal clauses is the “STAMP copula”, which has the same segmental form as long-vowel STAMP clitics (Table 2), marking subject agreement. The STAMP copulas for the first and second person singular and agreement class 1 have an H tone pattern, while all others have an HL pattern. As shown in (22), the STAMP copula marks relations of equation, proper inclusion, attribution, and locative predication between the subject and the predicate. As such, the predicates of a STAMP copula construction include nouns, adjectives, and locative noun phrases. (In other tenses than the present, the specific tense form of the verb *bɛ̀* ‘be’ is used for all of these constructions.)

- (22) a. Equation
 Àdà àà sâ wâ
 Ø.1.PN 1.COP Ø.1.father 1-POSS.1SG
 ‘Ada is my father.’
 b. Proper inclusion
 Àdà àà ɲgɛ̀lɛ̀nɛ̀
 Ø.1.PN 1.COP Ø.1.teacher
 ‘Ada is a teacher.’

c. Attribution

Àdà àà mpà

Ø.1.PN 1.COP good

‘Ada is good.’

d. Locative predication

Àdà àà ndáwò dé tù

Ø.1.PN 1.COP Ø.9.house LOC inside

‘Ada is in the house.’

Negation of these non-verbal predications pattern with standard negation strategies using the verb *bê* ‘be’, as shown in (23).

(23) a. Equation

Àdà àá bɛ́-lɛ sâ wâ

Ø.1.PN 1.PRS.NEG be-NEG Ø.1.father 1-POSS.1SG

‘Ada is not my father.’

b. Proper inclusion

Àdà àá bɛ́-lɛ ɲgɛ́lɛ́nɛ̀

Ø.1.PN 1.PRS.NEG be-NEG Ø.1.teacher

‘Ada is not a teacher.’

c. Attribution

Àdà àá bɛ́-lɛ mpà

Ø.1.PN 1.PRS.NEG be-NEG good

‘Ada is not good.’

d. Locative predication

Àdà àá bɛ́-lɛ ndáwò dé tù

Ø.1.PN 1.PRS.NEG be-NEG Ø.9.house LOC inside

‘Ada is not in the house.’

Existential clauses are the second type of non-verbal predicates. While they also use the STAMP copula, their predicates are typically adverbs, as in (24a). Under negation, the adverb is dropped. In contrast to the constructions in (23), negated existentials allow for the subject noun to appear either clause-finally, as in (24b), or clause-initially, as in (24c). (24b) represents the unmarked order as either athetic sentence or with the postverbal noun being in the dedicated focus position. If the negated verb appears phrase-finally, the focus is on the negation and thus on the truth value of the clause.

- (24) a. b-ùdâ báà tè
 ba.2-woman 2.COP there
 ‘There are women.’
 b. bá bɛ́-lé b-ùdâ
 2.PR.S be-not 2-woman
 ‘There are no **women** (or *thetic*).’
 c. b-ùdâ bá bɛ́-lé
 2-woman 2.PR.S be-NEG
 ‘There are **no** women.’

Third, Gyeli marks identificational clauses with the identificational marker *wé*. In contrast to the STAMP copula, it is invariable and does not agree with the subject. The identificational marker typically links a nominal subject to a demonstrative, as in (25a), or an anaphoric marker, as in (25b), which is uttered at the end of a story telling.

- (25) a. ntémbó wâ wé nû
Ø.1.younger.opposite.sex.sibling 1-POSS.1SG ID 1.DEM.PROX
'This is my younger brother/sister.'
- b. kàndá wé ndè
Ø.7.proverb ID ANA
'This is the story.'

The negated counterparts of identificational constructions are also encoded by the verb *bè* ‘be’, as shown in (26). As with negated existentials, negated identification clauses with a demonstrative allow for more freedom in constituent order, changing the topic referent. In (26a), the discourse topic is the sibling, while the deictic referent of the demonstrative is in focus position. In (26b), on the other hand, the discourse topic is the deictic referent of the demonstrative, while the nominal complement *ntémbó wâ* ‘my younger brother/sister’ constitutes new information.⁷

- (26) a. ntémbó wâ áá b́é-lé
 Ø.1.younger.opposite.sex.sibling 1-POSS.1SG 1.PRS.NEG be-NEG
 nû
 1.DEM.PROX
 ‘My younger brother/sister is not this one.’

⁷The demonstrative in (26b) replaces the STAMP clitic segmentally, but takes the tonal pattern that the STAMP clitic would take in this environment.

- b. nú bé-lé ntémbo wâ
1.DEM.PRS be-NEG Ø.1.younger.opposite.sex.sibling 1-POSS.1SG
'This is not my younger brother/sister.'
- c. kàndá yí bé-lé yí-ndè
Ø.7.proverb 7.PRS be-NEG 7-ANA
'This is not the story.'

While the anaphoric marker (which is distinct from the proximal and distal demonstratives) can appear bare with the identificational marker *wé* in (25b), it requires an agreement prefix in the negated construction in (26c).

Finally, possessive predication is expressed by the combination of a verb and comitative marker *bè nà* ‘be with’. As such, these constructions generally follow the same pattern as negation in main clauses, as shown in (27). At the same time, they allow a choice between the standard negation form in (27b) and the use of the non-standard privative marker *tí* (§2.2.2 and §3.3), as in (27c), which seems to emphasize the absence of something.

- (27) a. mé bɛ nà nkwàno
me-H bɛ-H nà nkwàno
1SG-PRS be-R COM Ø.3.honey
'I have honey.'
- b. mé bɛlé nà nkwàno
me-H bɛ-lɛ nà nkwàno
1SG-PRS be-NEG COM Ø.3.honey
'I don't have any honey.'
- c. mè tí bè nà nkwàno
mɛ tí bè nà nkwàno
1SG.SBJ NEG be COM Ø.3.honey
'I'm without honey.'

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Gyeli does not have any dedicated negation strategies that make distinctions between main and non-main clauses. Just like in main clauses (§2.1), non-main clauses allow for standard and non-standard negation constructions. The dichotomy of different negation types contrasting indicative/subjunctive or main/relative clauses that has been observed in many Bantu languages (Nurse 2008) does thus not apply in Gyeli. (28) is an example of standard negation in a relative clause

with the same constructional and paradigmatic asymmetries described in §2.1.3 and §2.1.4.

- (28) a. bá dyúwɔ lékélè [lé wé làwɔ]_{REL}
 ba-H dyúwɔ-H H\ɛ-kélè lé wɛ-H làwɔ
 2-PRS understand OBJ.LINK\5-language 5:ATTR 2SG-PRS speak
 ‘They understand the language that you speak.’
 b. bá dyúwɔ lékélè [lé wèé
 ba-H dyúwɔ-H H\ɛ-kélè lé wèé
 2-PRS understand OBJ.LINK\5-language 5:ATTR 2SG-PRS.NEG
 làwɔlè]_{REL}
 làwɔ-lɛ
 speak-NEG
 ‘They understand the language that you don’t speak.’

Standard negation is also used in complement clauses with say- or think-verbs, as in (29) and its negative counterpart in (30).

- (29) ndí wé lèmbó [nâ mbvúndá nyî bvúda nâ mbvúndá]_{COMP}
 ndí wɛ-H lèmbó-H nâ mbvúndá nyî bvúda nâ mbvúndá
 but 2SG-PRS know-R COMP Ø.9.trouble 9.FUT fight COM Ø.9.trouble
 ‘But you know that violence will create more violence.’
 (30) ndí wé lèmbó [nâ mbvúndá nyî kálè bvúda nâ
 ndí wɛ-H lèmbó-H nâ mbvúndá nyî kálè bvúda nâ
 but 2SG-PRS know-R COMP Ø.9.trouble 9.FUT NEG.FUT fight COM
 mbvúndá]_{COMP}
 mbvúndá
 Ø.9.trouble
 ‘But you know that violence will not create more violence.’

There are non-main clauses with the non-standard negation markers *dúù* and *tí* to mark predication negation. *tí* is special in that it can also constitute the negative subordinator of an infinitival clause (§4.5). If a complement clause expresses wishes, orders, obligations, or prohibitions, the subjunctive is used, which requires the non-standard negation marker *dúù* under negation, as in (31).

- (31) a. yî mpindá nâ wé djíwɔ́ bésâ
 yî mpindá nâ wɛ-H djíwɔ́ H\be-sâ
 7.COP Ø.9.prohibition COMP 2SG-PRS steal.SBJV OBJ.LINK\8-thing
 ‘It’s forbidden that you steal things.’

- b. yî mpìnàgà nâ wé dúù djíwò
 yî mpìnàgà nâ wɛ-H dúù djíwò
 7.COP Ø.3.obligation COMP 2SG-PRS must.not.SBJV steal
 bésâ
 H\be-sâ
 OBJ.LINK\8-thing
 ‘It’s necessary that you don’t steal things.’

dúù can also negate a modal in dependent clauses, as in (32).

- (32) a. kálè mè bàà kì nâ bá yáné bè bédéwò
 kálè mè bàà kì nâ ba-H yánɛ-H bè H\be-déwò
 NEG 1SG 2.FUT say COMP 2-PRS must-R grow OBJ.LINK\8-thing
 ‘It’s not me, they [= who] will say that they must grow food.’
 b. kálè mè bàà kì nâ bá dúú bè bédéwò
 kálè mè bàà kì nâ ba-H dúù-H bè H\be-déwò
 NEG 1SG 2.FUT say COMP 2-PRS must.not-R grow OBJ.LINK\8-thing
 ‘It’s not me, they [= who] will say that they must not grow food.’

In complement clauses with the subjunctive, negation is usually raised from the dependent to the main clause, as shown in (33). Negative raising is possible and frequent with the subjunctive, since the subjunctive in Gyeli inherently relates to volition, as reflected also in the predicate of the main clause. Volition predicates constitute one class of predicates involved in negative raising (Horn 1989). Negative raising with other types of verbs that do not entail a subjunctive form in the dependent clause, such as for instance say-verbs, is not possible as the meaning would change.

- (33) mɛ́ɛ wúmbé́lé nâ wé djíwòò bésâ
 mɛ́ɛ wúmbɛ-lɛ nâ wɛ-H djíwòò H\be-sâ
 1.PRS.NEG want-NEG COMP 2SG-PRS steal.SBJV OBJ.LINK\8-thing
 ‘I don’t want that you steal things.’

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Negative lexicalizations in Gyeli are rare. The most common one is the negative modal auxiliary *dúù* ‘must not’. Its main use is in negative subjunctives and therefore discussed in §2.2.3. One may argue that the noun *mpìndá* ‘prohibition’ in (31a) is another instance of negative lexicalization, as it generates an implicature that the action in the following complement clause is not to be done. The noun does not, however, perform clausal negation in a syntactic sense.

3 Non-clausal negation

While Gyeli has several negation markers for clausal negation, non-clausal negation is rather restricted. After discussing pro-sentence forms of negative replies in §3.1, I turn to the lack of negative indefinites and quantifiers in §3.2 and the absence of negative derivation in §3.3.

3.1 Negative replies

Gyeli has several pro-sentence forms for agreement and disagreement signal. Example (34) provides a list of pro-forms that signal agreement and that can be used in an answer to any yes/no-question. They have pragmatic differences. For instance, while (34a) is the default form, (34f) is more emphatic.

- (34) a. *éè* ‘yes’
 b. *áà* ‘yes’
 c. *èè* ‘yes’
 d. *éé* ‘yes’
 e. *mímímí* ‘yes’
 f. *èhéé* ‘yes’

There are fewer pro-forms for disagreement than for agreement. The default form is *tòsâ* in (35a), which is derived from the negative polarity item *tò* and the noun *sâ* ‘thing’.

- (35) a. *tòsâ* ‘no’
 b. *é’ê* ‘no’
 c. *m’m* ‘no’

Semantically, negative replies match the question’s polarity, as shown in (36–37). Enfield et al. (2019) refer to this interjection-type answer as a ‘yes/no system’ (contrasting an ‘agree/disagree system’ in which the answer relates to the truth value of the proposition).

- (36) Q: *nà wè* *nyé* *nyê*
 nà wè *nyê-H nyê*
 Q 2SG.REC.PST see-R 1.OBJ
 ‘Did you see him/her?’
 A1: *éè* ‘yes! [I did see him/her]’

A2: t̥s̥â ‘no! [I didn’t see him/her]’

- (37) Q: n̥à w̥éé ny̥é̤é ny̥ê
 n̥à w̥éé ny̥ê-le ny̥ê
 Q 2SG.PRS.NEG see-NEG 1.OBJ
 ‘Didn’t you see him/her?’
 A1: é̤é ‘yes! [I did see him/her]’
 A2: t̥s̥â ‘no! [I didn’t see him/her]’

While interjection-type answers seem more frequent and the default, repetition-type answers are also used, which echo the verb of the question. The repeated proposition either occurs by itself or in combination with the interjection-type answer, for instance as in *I didn’t see him!* or *No, I didn’t see him*. This combination of a ‘yes/no’ and an ‘echo system’ is the most frequent among mixed answering systems (Moser 2018). The distribution of different answer types has not been investigated at length in Gyeli, but it seems that repetition-type answers and their combinations with an interjection are linked to emphasis and assertion.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Gyeli does not have any negative indefinite pronouns. Equivalent of *nobody* or *nothing* in English are expressed by bare nouns with the singular form of *mùdì* ‘person’ for animates and *s̥â* ‘thing’ for inanimates, as shown in (38) for these bare nouns in object position.

- (38) m̥é̤é ny̥é̤é mùdì/s̥â
 m̥é̤é ny̥ê-le m-ùdì/s̥â
 1SG.PRS.NEG see-NEG Ø.1-person/Ø.7.thing
 ‘I don’t see a (the) person/a (the) thing.’

As the translation suggests, this clause is ambiguous as to the referent of the bare noun. The negative polarity item *t̥ò* can optionally be used to clarify when the intended meaning is *anyone/anything*, as discussed in (§4.2).

If these default bare nouns function as the subject, a negated existential construction (§2.3) is used in combination with a relative clause, as in (39).⁸

⁸It is cross-linguistically common to use negative existentials to encode negative indefinites (Haspelmath 1997, Veselinova 2013)

- (39) a. bá bélé bùdì [bà ké tísònì]_{REL}
 ba-H bè-lɛ b-ùdì ba kè-H tísònì
 2-PRS be-NEG 2-person 2.REC.PST go-R Ø.7.town
 ‘Nobody went to town.’
 b. bà bélé bùdì [bà ké tísònì]_{REL}
 ba bè-lɛ b-ùdì ba kè-H tísònì
 2.REC.PST be-NEG 2-person 2.REC.PST go-R Ø.7.town
 ‘There **were** no people who went to town.’

In contrast to the object position, the plural form is preferred with the subject bare noun, although the singular is also possible. In terms of tense marking, the negative clause could also appear in other tense-mood categories, for instance in the past or future. However, the present marking in the negated main clause and potentially a different tense marking in the relative clause is the default. If the main clause was marked for a different tense category, that tense category would be in focus, as in (39b) (while the relative clause keeps the past tense marking as well).

There are also no negative quantifiers such as *no* or *none*. Equivalents of these are either expressed by negated existential clauses, as in (39) or with *tí* constructions, as in (40b).

3.3 Negative derivation

Gyeli lacks the diversity in negation (derivational) affixes found in many Indo-European languages that are associated with semantic categories such as “contradictory negation” (*non-*), “contrary negation” and “reversal” (*un-*), “privative negation” and “removal” (*dis-*), and “opposition” (*anti-*) (Cartoni & Lefer 2011, Joshi 2020). There are only two instances of negative derivation in Gyeli. One is the negative reply *tòsà* ‘no’, which is a lexicalized form derived from the negative polarity item *tò* (§4.2) and the noun *sà* ‘thing’.

The other is the use of the non-standard negation marker *tí* with nominal heads. While *tí* is primarily used as a negation marker for imperatives (§2.2.2), it has also grammaticalized into a nominal negation marker that drops the verbal elements of an infinitival clause *tí bè nà* ‘not being with’ to serve as a privative preposition *tí* ‘without’, as shown in (40b) – the elements in parentheses are usually omitted.

- (40) a. mé nyúlé kòfí nà ngùó
 mɛ-H nyúlɛ-H kòfí nà ngùó
 1SG-PRS drink-R Ø.7.coffee COM Ø.7.sugar
 ‘I drink coffee with sugar.’
- b. mé nyúlé kòfí tí (bè nà) ngùó
 mɛ-H nyúlɛ-H kòfí tí bè nà ngùó
 1SG-PRS drink-R Ø.7.coffee NEG be COM Ø.7.sugar
 ‘I drink coffee without sugar.’

There is one unique case of reversal opposition between *jì* ‘open’ and *jì-bo* ‘close’ (lit. ‘un-open’). The extension suffix *-bo* and its alternate form *-wɔ* cannot, however, be associated with a general reversal meaning (Grimm 2021: 279).

As Gyeli only has a very small class of adjectives, morphologically negated adjectives do not exist; they would be expressed as other non-verbal predicates (§2.3). Further, Gyeli does not have any case marking so that negation phenomena in connection with case do not apply.

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Negation can have scope over all constituents in a sentence. Therefore, a sentence as in (41) is ambiguous with respect to which constituent is being negated.

- (41) Àdà àá gyámbólé békwàndò kísínì dé tù
 Àdà àá gyámbo-lɛ H\be-kwàndò kísínì dé tù
 Ø.1.PN 1.PRS.NEG cook-NEG OBJ.LINK\8-plantain Ø.1.kitchen LOC inside
 ‘Ada doesn’t cook plantains in the kitchen.’

The negation can scope over any NP: the subject (it isn’t Ada, it is Mambi), the object (it isn’t plantains, it is potatoes), and the adjunct (it isn’t in the kitchen, it is outside). It can also negate both the verb (he doesn’t cook the plantains, he grills them) and the TAM category (he doesn’t cook plantains right now, he already cooked them).

There are means to disambiguate the focus of negation, following the language’s information packaging principles. The most important information structure means in Gyeli is word order. Prosody, such as stress, does not play a role. Instead, Gyeli has dedicated information structure positions (Güldemann et al. 2015), with the subject as the default topic and the object as default focus (Grimm

to appear). Predicate focus is achieved through (pronominal) object fronting as in (42).

- (42) à pálé byô gyámbò
 a pálé byô gyámbo
 1.REC.PST PST.NEG 8.OBJ cook
 ‘S/he did not **cook** them [the plantains].’

Subject and adjunct focus are expressed by cleft constructions, as exemplified for subject focus in (43).

- (43) yîi pálé Àdà à gyámbó békwàndò
 yîi pálé Àdà a gyámbo-H H\be-kwàndò
 7.COP PST.NEG Ø.1.PN 1.REC.PST cook-R OBJ.LINK\8-plantain
 ‘It wasn’t Ada who cooked the plantains.’

A special focus construction using different negation strategies was discussed in §2.2.2 in example (19).

Negation also has scope effects in terms of narrow and wide scope readings in negated sentences (see also §3.2). In (44a), it is ambiguous whether negation has narrow or wide scope.

- (44) a. mɛ́ɛ nyé́lé bùdì
 mɛ́ɛ nyế-lé b-ùdì
 1SG.PRS.NEG see-NEG 2-person
 ‘I don’t see any/the people.’
 b. mɛ́ɛ nyé́lé tò bùdì
 mɛ́ɛ nyế-lé tò b-ùdì
 1SG.PRS.NEG see-NEG NPI 2-person
 ‘I don’t see any people.’

Gyeli can disambiguate narrow scope readings by using the negative polarity item (NPI) *tò*, as in (44b), as is expected for the function of an NPI: Barker (2018: 483) shows that, “an NPI must always take narrow scope with respect to its licensing context.”

4.2 Negative polarity

Gyeli has two negative polarity items (NPI). One is *tò* and disambiguates scope readings under negation, as discussed in §4.1. The other is *lií* ‘yet’, which is licensed under negation of the completive aspect, as shown in (45). For further

discussion, please see Grimm (2021: 477). Both NPIS are strictly limited to negative contexts.

- (45) a. mɛ pálé líí bà
 mɛ pálé líí bà
 1SG.REC.PST NEG.PST yet marry
 ‘I am not yet married.’
 b. mɛ bà mò
 mɛ bà mò
 1SG.REC.PST marry COMPL
 ‘I am already married.’

In contrast to the opposition of English ‘still’ and ‘anymore’, Gyeli does not use an NPI but the same lexical item *ná* ‘still’ in affirmative and negated sentences, as shown in (46) for both the standard and non-standard negation strategy in the present tense. In all cases, the continuous marker *ná* follows the inflected verb form, which is the auxiliary *tí* in (46c).

- (46) a. líní á sílé dè mántúà á dyúwó ná
 líní a-H sílé-H dè H\ma-ntúà a-H dyúwɔ-H ná
 when 1-PRS finish-R eat OBJ.LINK\6-mango 1-PRS feel-R still
 nzà
 nzà
 Ø.9.hunger
 ‘When s/he has eaten mangoes, s/he still feels hungry.’
 b. líní á sílé dè mántúà àá dyúwólé ná
 líní a-H sílé-H dè H\ma-ntúà àá dyúwɔ-lɛ ná
 when 1-PRS finish-R eat OBJ.LINK\6-mango 1.PRS.NEG feel-NEG still
 nzà
 nzà
 Ø.9.hunger
 ‘When s/he has eaten mangoes, s/he does NOT feel hungry anymore.’
 c. líní á sílé dè mántúà à tí ná dyúwó
 líní a-H sílé-H dè H\ma-ntúà a tí ná dyúwɔ
 when 1-PRS finish-R eat OBJ.LINK\6-mango 1 NEG still feel
 nzà
 nzà
 Ø.9.hunger
 ‘When s/he has eaten mangoes, s/he does not feel **hungry** anymore.’

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

There is no special marking of NPs in the scope of negation except for the negative polarity item *tò* which may appear in front of a NP to indicate narrow scope (§4.1, §4.2).

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Reinforcing negative replies (§3.1) is achieved prosodically through lengthening and increased volume. Also cleft constructions, as described in §4.1, can reinforce negation. Other means of negation reinforcement require future research.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Coordination of affirmative and negated phrases seems generally to be avoided. Speakers use separate sentences or coordination with the opposition coordinator *ndí* ‘but’ instead. Coordination of two negated phrases only requires negation marking on the first verb, while negation also has scope over the second co-ordinand, as in (47).

- (47) mɛ́ɛ gyímbólé nà dyà
 mɛ́ɛ gyímbo-le nà dyà
 1SG.NEG.PRS dance-NEG CONJ sing
 ‘I don’t dance and sing.’

The negative polarity item *tò* (§4.2) is used as a negative coordinator. It can coordinate both NPs, as in (48a), and non-finite verbs in complex predicates, as in (48b).

- (48) a. mɛ́ɛ kwálèlè tò bèfùmbí tò mànjà
 mɛ́ɛ kwàle-le tò be-fùmbí tò ma-njà
 1SG.NEG.PRS like-NEG NPI 8-orange NPI 6-banana
 ‘I neither like oranges nor bananas.’
 b. mɛ́ɛ kwálèlè tò dyà tò gyímbò
 mɛ́ɛ kwàle-le tò dyà tò gyímbo
 1SG.NEG.PRS like-NEG NPI sing NPI dance
 ‘I neither like to sing nor to dance.’

The non-standard negation marker *tí* (§2.2.2) functions as a negative subordinator in infinitival subordinate clauses, as in (49b). This is different from simply

negating the predicate of a dependent clause (§2.4), as verb inflection for tense, aspect, mood, and polarity is generally lost in infinitival dependent clauses. The affirmative counterpart in (49a) either takes another subordinator such as the sequential marker *vèè* or no special subordinator at all.

(49) Context: Depiction of disease roaming in his body.

- a. gbí-gbì-gbí-gbì-gbí à múà nà bábè [(vèè) wúmbè wè]
 gbí-gbì-gbí-gbì-gbí a múà nà bábè vèè wúmbè wè
 IDEO:roaming 1 PROSP COM Ø.7.illness SEQ want die
 ‘He was about to be sick, wanting to die.’
- b. gbí-gbì-gbí-gbì-gbí à múà nà bábè [tí wúmbè wè]
 gbí-gbì-gbí-gbì-gbí a múà nà bábè tí wúmbè wè
 IDEO:roaming 1 PROSP COM Ø.7.illness NEG want die
 ‘He was about to be sick, not wanting to die.’

The language does not have negative conjunctions such as *lest*.

5 Conclusion

Negation in Gyeli is mostly marked through syntactic means of negation auxiliaries, as shown in Table 5, which provides a summary of all negation markers in the language.

Table 5: Gyeli negation markers

Negation marker	Status	Distribution
H...-le	negation circumfix	present
sàlé/palé	negation auxiliary	past tenses
kálè	negation auxiliary	future
dúù ‘must not’	modal negation auxiliary	subjunctive, present
tí	negation auxiliary	imperative, infinitive, present (predicate focus)

In Gyeli clausal negation, both standard and non-standard negation strategies are used, as shown in Table 6.⁹ The distribution of standard versus non-standard

⁹Negation markers also take STAMP marker forms that are specific to the TAMP category they encode, as described in §2.1.

negation correlates with a combination of specific tense-mood categories with certain clause types. There is, however, no entirely neat form-to-function mapping of negation markers to single tense-mood categories or clause types. While past tenses and the future only occur with standard negation, present tense negation has several strategies, including standard and non-standard negation. Remarkably, the choice of different negation strategies coincides with different focus constructions, differentiating truth value focus and lexical verb focus. Subjunctives and imperatives only have non-standard negation marking. Some clause types are associated with standard and non-standard negation, such as main, relative, and complement clauses. In contrast, non-verbal and existential clauses only take standard negation marking, while infinitival subordinate clauses and NPs only allow non-standard negation.

Table 6: Distribution of clausal negation markers

Negation marker	TM distribution	Clause types
<u>Standard negation</u>		
<i>-lɛ</i>	Present	main, relative, complement,
<i>sàlé/palé</i>	Past tenses	non-verbal, existential
<i>kálè</i>	Future	
<u>Non-standard clausal negation</u>		
<i>dúù</i> ‘must not’	Subjunctive, present	main, relative, complement
<i>tí</i>	Imperative, infinitive, present (predicate focus)	main, infinitival clause, NPs

While Gyeli has various strategies and markers for clausal negation, negative derivation is virtually absent. This ties in with the language’s limited set of adjectives.

Acknowledgements

I would like to thank Ljuba Veselinova and Matti Miestamo for organizing the workshop on negation at 8th *Conference on the Syntax of the World’s Languages (SWL)* at Paris in 2018 and editing this book. I am grateful for the constructive comments given by two anonymous reviewers and feedback from the audience at SWL8, as well as to Héloïse Calame for very careful proof-reading and type-setting.

Abbreviations

Ø	Ø-noun class	NPI	negative polarity item
*	ungrammatical form	NP	noun phrase
1–9	agreement class 1–9	OBJ.LINK	object linking H tone
1SG	first person singular	PL	plural
2SG	second person singular	PN	proper name
1PL	first person plural	POSS	possessor pronoun
2PL	second person plural	PREP	preposition
ADV	adverb	PRF	perfect
ANA	anaphoric marker	PRIOR	priorative
ATTR	attributive marker	PRO	pronoun
COM	comitative marker	PROG	progressive
COMP	complementizer	PROSP	prospective
COMPL	completive	PROX	proximal
CONJ	conjunction	PRS	present
COP	copula	PST	past
DEM	demonstrative	Q	question marker
FUT	future	R	realis mood
H	high tone	REC	recent
HAB	habitual	REL	relative clause
HL	falling contour tone	REM	remote
ID	identificational marker	RETRO	retrospective
IDEO	ideophone	SBJV	subjunctive
IMP	imperative	SEQ	sequential marker
INCH	inchoative	SG	singular
L	low tone	STAMP	subject agreement, tense, aspect, mood, polarity clitic
LOC	locative	SUB	subordinate
N	noun	TM	tense-mood
NCA	non-complete accomplishment	V	verb
NEG	negation		

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Negation in Ngoreme

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This chapter is an overview of various aspects of negation in Ngoreme, a Lacustrine Bantu language spoken in the Mara Region of Tanzania. Ngoreme marks standard negation via verbal morphology, either with the prefix *ta-* following the subject marker (termed “post-initial”) or the prefix *te-* preceding the subject marker (termed “pre-initial”). These forms are in free variation in standard negation, reflecting an ongoing process of change from the original post-initial marking to the pre-initial one, likely due to the influence of related languages to the north. We also describe negation in non-main clauses, where only the older post-initial marking can be used, and the use of various negative auxiliaries in certain contexts, such as prohibitives and the *nondum* (“not yet”). We also cover non-verbal negation as well as various other related phenomena such as negative indefinites and reinforcement of negation. Finally, the chapter includes a separate discussion of diachrony.

Keywords: Mara, Bantu, negation, variation, language change.

1 The language

Ngoreme (ISO: **ngq**, Glottocode: **ngur1263**), known as *ekéngoreme* in the language, is a Lacustrine Bantu language spoken in the Mara region of Tanzania by some 55,000 speakers (Hill et al. 2007, LoT 2009). The Mara region covers an area between Lake Victoria and the Serengeti National Park, and the Ngoreme speakers are situated in the central part of the area, neighbouring Kuria in the north, west and east, and the more closely related languages Ikizu, Ishenyi and Nata to the south. There is also a concentration of Ngoreme speakers found in the small town of Mugumu on the eastern edge of the region.

The Mara Region is an area of high linguistic diversity. Some twenty Bantu varieties are spoken in the area, along with the Nilotic languages Datooga (South Nilotic), Luo (West Nilotic) and Maasai (East Nilotic) (Hill et al. 2007). There are also claims of a historical presence of Cushitic languages in the region (Ehret 1971, Schoenbrun 1994, Schoenbrun 1997).

Bantu languages, grouped in the Benue-Congo branch of the Atlantic-Congo phylum, are commonly referred to using a system of alpha-numeric codes following Guthrie (1948, 1967–71) and updated by Maho (2003, 2009).¹ Under this system, Ngoreme is classified as (JE401) although it is also often thought to constitute a sub-group with other languages under the title of the ‘Mara languages’ (Nurse 1999: 9; Nurse & Muzale 1999: 519; Nurse & Philippson 2003: 170), and specifically along with Ikizu (ikz; JE402), Ikoma Ishenyi, Nata (with shared codes ntk; JE45) and Zanaki (zak; JE44), with which it forms the South Mara branch. The other branch of Mara languages is the North Mara group of Gusii (guz; JE42), Kabwa (cwa; JE405), Kuria (kuj; JE43) and Simbiti (ssc; JE431) (Aunio et al. 2019); the Suguti languages are also spoken in the Mara region. All of these languages, with the exception of Gusii and Kuria in Kenya, are spoken within the Mara region. While all of the Mara Bantu languages are classified in the Lacustrine (or Great Lakes) branch of Bantu (Schoenbrun 1994, Schoenbrun 1997), it is not clear that they constitute a genealogical grouping (Walker 2013, Roth 2018). However, the unity of the South Mara branch seems to be confirmed, along with Ngoreme’s inclusion therein, despite a relatively strong influence from neighbouring Kuria (Roth & Gibson 2019).

Despite its relatively small speaker numbers, the language is vibrant and spoken by people of all ages. At the latest by the time they reach primary school, Ngoreme-speakers are exposed to Swahili – the official and national language in Tanzania, as well as the medium of instruction in all government primary schools. Swahili is the *lingua franca* used in all official dealings and in inter-ethnic communication. Although Ngoreme is a language of the home and of the village, Swahili may still be preferred as the medium of communication in towns and cities. There is no official Ngoreme language education at any level, nor is the language afforded any formal status in the country.

Two main dialects of Ngoreme have been identified, a southern dialect (Mwibara) and a northern dialect (Rogoro²), which are mutually intelligible. For the most part, dialectal variation is not central to this paper and is only marked when this adds something to the broader discussion.

In phonological terms, Ngoreme is a fairly typical Bantu language. It exhibits a syllable structure in which the most common syllable is the open syllable CV(V)

¹This system is based on the division of language into 16 geographic zones, each of which are assigned a letter. This descriptive classification is geographic rather than genetic in nature. In this paper, we make reference to both the Guthrie codes and the ISO coding systems to facilitate use both by those familiar with the Guthrie classification system and those who are used to the ISO system.

²Although *royóro* actually means ‘east’ in Ngoreme.

where the vowels are of the same quality (i.e., a long vowel). The consonant inventory is typical for the area and Bantu more generally; a dissimilation process called Dahl's Law (Davy & Nurse 1982) is active, whereby voiceless stops are voiced when the following syllable also has a voiceless consonant (Aunio et al. 2019: 507). The voiced counterpart of /k/ in the system is the fricative /ɣ/, and the reflexes of Bantu **b* and **d* are /β/ and /ɾ/, respectively, unless prenasalized (resulting in /mb/ and /nd/, respectively). There is no /p/. Ngoreme is a tonal language and exhibits a privative tone system, i.e. one with an opposition between H, marked with an acute accent throughout this paper³, and Ø, left unmarked; the tone bearing unit is the syllable (Aunio 2017: 196).

Ngoreme has a 7-vowel system /i e ε a u o ɔ/, with an ATR distinction in the mid-vowels (Aunio et al. 2019: 503). However, the system seems to be in a state of transition towards a 5-vowel one, with all mid-vowels being recategorized as –ATR, leaving in /i ε a u ɔ/. This can be seen synchronically in the split in the lexicon in which only five vowels are used in verbs, while nouns have seven vowels, reflecting the earlier historic vowel system. There are also inconsistencies in ATR-based vowel harmony processes (Aunio et al. 2019: 506).

Ngoreme exhibits a dominant SVO constituent order and head-marking morphology. Bantu languages are known for their systems of noun classes which function as grammatical genders. Ngoreme is no exception to this and has 19 noun classes. By convention, these noun classes are numbered. In the typical Bantu fashion, classes 1–10 in Ngoreme represent singular-plural pairs. Classes above this include those that form their plurals in other distinct classes (e.g. class 11 which has most of its plurals in class 10, but also a handful in classes 6 and 14; cf. Laine 2023: 61–62). There are also two diminutive classes (classes 12 and 19) and an augmentative class (class 20). Class 15 contains verbal nouns – or infinitives – which similarly have no singular versus plural distinction. Another widespread Bantu feature is the use of locative classes. Ngoreme has three locative classes (16,17,18) which represent specific, general and internal location, respectively.

Nominal forms typically comprise of the noun stem, a nominal prefix (as determined by the noun class) and a pre-prefix. This pre-prefix is also termed the augment in the wider literature on Bantu – a term that we too will employ here. The augment is glossed AUG, but there is no connection to an augmentative function. Across the language family, the presence of the augment is dependent on

³There is some variation and fluctuation in the tones in Ngoreme, and the system is not yet fully analysed. The examples in this paper are tone marked according to our best current understanding, but this should be considered a preliminary analysis. We are thankful to Lotta Aunio for her help with the tones.

a number of factors which often seem to relate to specificity, topicality and definiteness either synchronically or at least diachronically (De Blois 1970; Van de Velde 2019a: 249–254). The augment is also sensitive to negative polarity and focus. Since the augment does not typically appear in negative contexts, it is absent from many of the examples in the current paper (see further discussion in §4.3). The nominal prefix is often phonologically determined with variant forms appearing in different contexts. Nominal dependents such as adjectives, numerals, demonstratives and adnominals all also exhibit agreement with the noun class of the nominal they are modifying.

The Ngoreme verb is constructed in the usual Bantu manner in which not all elements of the verb are obligatorily present, but those that are must appear in a specific order. The verbal complex is agglutinative, and prefixes and suffixes combine with an obligatory verb stem to encode a range of grammatical distinctions such as tense-aspect-mood, polarity and associated motion. The structure of the verb is outlined in Figure 1 below.

Pre-initial – Initial – Post-initial – Pre-radical – Radical – Pre-final – Final – Post-final

Figure 1: Structure of the Ngoreme verb

This structure is exemplified in (1) where the pre-initial marker appears as *te-* and encodes negation, the initial position contains the subject marker *βa-* (which although indexing third person plural, also belongs to noun class 2 – hence the ‘2’ in the glossing) and the pre-radical appears as the past tense marker *á-*. The radical is *-yi* ‘go’ and the final positive hosts the perfective marker *-ire*. Similarly, in (2) the prefix *βa-* appears in the initial position and the imperfective aspectual prefix appears in the pre-radical position. However, in this example, the applicative marker *-εɾ* also appears in the pre-final position.

- (1) *te-βá-á-yi-ire*
NEG-SBJ2-PST-go-PFV
‘They did not go.’
- (2) *βa-ra-sáám-εɾ-a*
SBJ2-IPFV-move-APPL-FV
‘They are moving [to somewhere].’

The language also employs auxiliary forms to encode a range of tense-aspect-mood distinctions (see also §2.2). In auxiliary constructions, an auxiliary form is typically followed (although see also §4.9) by a lexical main verb with temporal and aspectual information distributed across the two forms.

Unless otherwise indicated, data from this paper come from original field-based data collection by the three authors in the Mara region of Tanzania, or by other members of the Mara Project carried out at the University of Helsinki between 2016–2021.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation in Ngoreme is achieved by adding a negative prefix to the verb. The prefix is most typically *te-* which appears before all other markers in the verbal complex, preceding the subject marker in the so-called pre-initial position (see Figure 1 above). While affirmative main clause verb forms are commonly – albeit far from necessarily – marked with the focus marker *N-*, this does not appear in negative constructions.⁴ Compare the affirmative and negative examples in (3) and (4) below.

- (3) m-ba-a-yí-íre mwanza
 FOC-SBJ2-PST-go-PFV Mwanza
 ‘They went to Mwanza.’
- (4) te-βá-á-yi-ire mwanza
 NEG-SBJ2-PST-go-PFV Mwanza
 ‘They did not go to Mwanza.’

There is, however, an alternative negative marker: a prefix *ta-*, which can occur between the subject and TAM markers in the *post*-initial slot of the verbal complex. Thus, example (4) above can also be formed as in (5):

- (5) βa-tá-á-yi-ire mwanza
 SBJ2-NEG-PST-go-PFV Mwanza
 ‘They did not go to Mwanza.’

⁴In Ngoreme, the pre-initial prefix *N-* is typically used to convey verb focus or assertion about the event depicted in the (predicate) verb and may be omitted when such criteria are not met. However, there are some affirmative contexts where pre-initial *N-* is obligatorily omitted. These include focus construction where focus is placed on some constituent other than the (predicate) verb (e.g., in content questions and answers), as well as relative and other subordinate constructions (i.e., in non-main clauses). Absence of a focus nasal may also be used to convey modal readings of uncertainty. See Aunio et al. (2019), Roth (2018: 35–36), Bernander & Laine (2020) for more elaboration on pre-initial *N-* and its function(s) in Ngoreme and its closest relatives.

The strategy involving the post-initial marker is the only available means of negating verbs in the other South Mara languages, while the pre-initial *te-* (or a related form) is used in the North Mara languages, including Kuria, with which Ngoreme has been in contact. The pre-initial marker thus appears to be an innovation in Ngoreme. The choice of marker in Ngoreme seems to be a matter of free variation: there is no difference in meaning, and the same speakers will alternate between the two forms in similar environments. While the speakers are aware of dialectal differences and recognize certain grammatical variations as dialectal, they do not consider the choice of negative prefix to represent such a variation, and speakers accept both forms.

The idea that the post-initial negation marker in Ngoreme is the older form and the pre-initial one is an innovation is further supported by the fact that, of the two prefixes, in negated subordinate clauses, only the post-initial marker may be used (see also §2.2., §2.4. and the discussion in §4.8). This is also true of copula verbs (see also §2.3). An additional twist in the position of the pre-initial negative marker in relation to the subject prefix arises when the subject is either 2SG or noun class 1, 3 or 9. In these cases, the subject prefix is a single vowel (*o-*, *a-*, *o-* and *e-*, respectively), and in negative verbs, this fuses with the negative marker resulting in the forms *to-*, *ta-*, *to-* and *te-*. In negative main clauses, these are the only forms available with these subjects. However, in subordinate clauses, these forms will obligatorily ‘separate’ into a subject marker followed by the post-initial negative *-ta-*: *o-ta-* (SBJ2SG-NEG), etc. (see also §2.4).

The affirmative imperfective prefix is *ra-*⁵, as in (6). However, in negated forms, an alternative imperfective marker (*V*)*ko*⁶ is used together with the negative prefix, as in (7).

- (6) rééro n-dá-yi ku-rɛm-a
 today SBJ1SG-IPFV-go INF-farm-FV
 ‘Today I am going farming.’

- (7) rééro té-ŋ-ko-yi ku-rɛm-a
 today NEG-SBJ1SG-IPFV-go INF-farm-FV
 ‘Today I am not going farming.’

⁵The /ɾ/ is strengthened to /d/ when prenasalized.

⁶<V> here stands for an unspecified vowel, that is, a vowel which merely lengthens the preceding vowel and lacks a vowel quality of its own. The marker *Vko-* is used for both affirmative and negative imperfectives in Ngoreme’s closest relatives Ikoma, Ishenyi and Nata; the affirmative *ra-* seems to be a Ngoreme innovation, and most likely derived from progressive *ra-* still found in the other languages. See §2.3 on negative copulas for another instance where Ngoreme preserves an older form in negation.

Unlike many of its neighbouring languages and the Bantu languages more generally, Ngoreme lacks a morphological progressive form. Instead, a periphrastic progressive with a copular auxiliary is commonly used in the affirmative as in (8). The negated equivalent of this form is most often a negated imperfective as in (9), but it is also possible to negate the auxiliary, in which case auxiliary inversion does not occur (see §4.9 for more on inverted auxiliary constructions). There is thus an asymmetric tendency here, but the alternation is not fully grammaticalized; see Table 1 below, along with the accompanying note on paradigmatic asymmetry.

- (8) η -ko-rjɛɾ-a β a-aní
 FOC-INF-run-FV SBJ2-PRS.COP
 ‘They are running.’

- (9) te- β á-áko-rjɛɾ-a
 NEG-SBJ2-IPFV-run-FV
 ‘They are not running.’

Perfective aspect in Ngoreme is coded with the marker *-ire/-iri*, a reflex of a common Bantu suffix and the Proto-Bantu form **-ide*. The TAM prefix slot is left empty. The variation in the translation of (10) shows that change-of-state verb like ‘sleep’ (~ ‘fall asleep’) conjugated in this verb form may either gain a perfect(ive) or a (present) resultative reading, depending on clause-external issues of viewpoint or the general context in which the propositions are uttered. See Botne (forthcoming) on this common behaviour of the Bantu perfect(ive) and Roth (2018: 54–70) on Western Serengeti specifically. In negation, either the pre- or post-initial negative prefix may be used, as illustrated in example (11a) and (11b), respectively.

- (10) m-bá-mis-iri
 FOC-SBJ2-sleep-PFV
 ‘They have slept.’ (‘They are asleep.’ / ‘They slept’)

- (11) a. β a-tá-mis-iri
 SBJ2-NEG-sleep-PFV
 ‘They have not slept.’
 b. te- β á-mis-iri
 NEG-SBJ2-sleep-PFV
 ‘They have not slept.’

The past tense is formed by combining a tense prefix *a-* with the perfective form, as illustrated in example (12) and (13). The past tense is thus only differentiated from the perfective by vowel length preceding the macrostem: *βatámisiri* ‘they have not slept’, as in (11a), or *βatáámisiri* ‘they did not sleep’.

- (12) *n-a-a-rúy-ire* *e-βj-ákori* *ítʃo*
 FOC-SBJ1-PST-cook-PFV AUG-8-food yesterday
 ‘He cooked food yesterday.’

- (13) *tá-á-ruy-ire* *βj-ákori* *ítʃo*
 NEG.SBJ1-PST-cook-PFV 8-food yesterday
 ‘I did not cook food yesterday.’

Other morphological TAM categories in Ngoreme include the habitual (*háa-/ráa-*),⁷ the (counterfactive) conditional (*nga-*), the narrative (*Vka-*) and the situative (*ko-*).⁸ Of these, only habitual forms, as in (14) and (15), are found negated in our data: All instances make use of the post-initial marker.

- (14) *βa-ta-ráá-rjɛr-a*
 SBJ2-NEG-HAB-run-FV
 ‘They don’t run (regularly).’
- (15) *tu-rá-β-a* *tu-ta-ráá-βin-a*
 SBJ1PL-IPFV-be-FV SBJ1PL-NEG-HAB-sing-FV
 ‘We will not be singing (regularly).’

In narrative and situative contexts, other negated forms, mainly the past and imperfective, respectively, are used instead. In conditionals, a negated auxiliary formally similar to the periphrastic progressive is used, as in example (16) below.

- (16) *ti-n-ááre* *ko-yí* *musoma hata kama o-mu-nɛnɛ*
 NEG-SBJ1SG-PST.COP INF-go Musoma even if AUG-1-fat
a-nga-n-tɔm-íre
 SBJ1-COND-OM1SG-send-PFV
 ‘I would not have gone to Musoma even if the boss had sent me.’

⁷Ngoreme has two habitual markers, *háa-* and *ráa-*, apparently in free variation. Roth (2018: 73) mentions the possibility that the latter is an emergent form analogically related to the habitual *háa-* and the imperfective *ra-*.

⁸Ngoreme is analysed as having a situative formed with the prefix *ko-* by Roth (2018). See, however, Laine (2023: 171–174) for a critical discussion.

The morphological negatability of Ngoreme TAM categories is summarised in Table 1. As shown, there is quite a bit of paradigmatic asymmetry in Ngoreme (see Miestamo 2005, Miestamo 2013), particularly in the imperfective domain, where only the habitual and the imperfective proper are regularly negated as such. The periphrastic progressive exhibits some variability; as discussed above, it is typically negated using the morphological imperfective, but the auxiliary verb can be negated instead, retaining the progressive construction. The asymmetry in Ngoreme seems to be a fairly clear case of neutralisation of TAM distinctions, the most common situation in asymmetric paradigms (e.g. Miestamo 2005: 54ff).

Table 1: TAM forms that can be morphologically negated in Ngoreme

Category	Marker	Negatability	Most common negative category
Perfective	<i>-ire</i>	yes	Perfective
Past	<i>a-...-ire</i>	yes	Past
Narrative	<i>ka-</i>	-	
Habitual	<i>háá-</i>	yes	Habitual
Imperfective	<i>ra-/Vko-</i>	yes	Imperfective
Situative	<i>ko-</i>	-	
Progressive	<i>N-ko- + COP</i>	(yes)	
Imperative	-	-	Subjunctive
Subjunctive	<i>-e</i>	yes	
Conditional	<i>nga-</i>	-	

As will be returned to in §4.9, negation of the present progressive and past progressive is also associated with a change in word order. While the present progressive is formed through an infinitive-based verb-auxiliary construction (17), its negative counterpart exhibits the more typologically expected auxiliary-verb order albeit with the addition to the negative morphology on the auxiliary form (18).

- (17) rééro ŋ-ko-yi to-oni tarisaraamu
 today FOC-INF-go SBJ1PL-PRS.COP Dar es Salaam
 ‘Today we are going to Dar es Salaam.’

- (18) rééro tu-tá-re ko-yi tarisaraamu
 today SBJ1PL-NEG-PRS.COP INF-go Dar es Salaam
 ‘Today we are not going to Dar es Salaam.’

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Ngoreme speakers employ different strategies for expressing negative imperatives, here also referred to as prohibitives. In accordance with a common trait across Bantu (cf. Devos & Van Olmen 2013, Nurse 2008: 191–193; Güldemann 1999) prohibitives are most commonly expressed in Ngoreme with a complex construction consisting of an auxiliary and a full verb occurring in the infinitive form.

As illustrated in (19–21), two different verbs are employed as prohibitive auxiliaries, viz. *-tiy-*, with the source meaning ‘stop, leave off, avoid’, and *-Vtj̥-* with the source meaning ‘come’.⁹ When functioning as a prohibitive auxiliary, *-Vtj̥-* furthermore contains the standard negative prefix *ta-*.

- (19) o-tíy-ε ko-rút-a e-siyára
 SBJ2SG-stop-SBJV INF-pull-FV AUG-9.cigarette
 ‘Don’t smoke (the cigarette)!’
- (20) tíy-a yw-ikára há-no
 stop-FV INF-become_seated 16-DEM
 ‘Don’t sit here!’
- (21) u-tá-átj̥-a ko-r-a e-jáma
 SBJ2SG-NEG-come-FV INF-eat-FV AUG-9.meat
 ‘Don’t eat meat!’

Notice that these constructions also differ with regard to the final vowel, the construction with *-tiy-* being variably inflected with the final subjunctive *-ε* (19) or the vowel *-a* of the basic imperative verb form (20), in which case it also lacks subject marking. Whereas the former is typically used for milder and more polite commands and may be used for directives which include performers other than the second person, the latter is used only for second person singular directives and typically conveys a stronger command. This systematization is in accordance with the common division of labour within the affirmative imperative-hortative system in Bantu (cf. Devos & Van Olmen 2013; Nurse & Devos 2019), as illustrated in (22) and (23) below.

⁹Recall that the <V> here stands for an unspecified vowel, that is, a vowel which merely lengthens the preceding vowel and lacks a vowel quality of its own. Note that the diacritic on /tj̥/ follows IPA convention for an affricate consonant and does not span over the <V>.

- (22) tuk-á
dig-FV
'Dig!'
- (23) βa-tuk-ε
sBJ2-dig-sBJV
'They should dig.'

The construction with $-V\widehat{tj}$ -, which employs a morphological construction with the post-initial negator and a final vowel *-a*, formally adheres to what is the basic, negative-imperative verb form sBJ-*ta*-B-verb in Ngoreme's closest Western Serengeti relatives. As further discussed in §4.8, however, this is not the case in Ngoreme, where the reflex of this synthetic non-declarative negative verb form has been reinterpreted with "ironic" non-negative readings.

There is a strong tendency of a functional division of labour between the two auxiliaries which revolves around the notion of "retrospective" versus "prospective" negation (cf. [van der Auwera 2010](#)). This functional partition is connected to the lexical semantics of the respective etymons of these negative auxiliaries, in line with [Hopper's](#) (1991) theory of persistence in grammaticalized (or grammaticalizing) elements. Thus, whereas *-tiy*- typically is used retrospectively for commanding the addressee to stop the continuation of an already initiated activity, as represented in the second infinitive verb, the construction with $-V\widehat{tj}$ -, with its de-venitive (cf. [Dahl 2000](#)), prospective reading, more readily denotes that the addressee should not commence in the event depicted in the full verb altogether. This fact may be illustrated with the minimal pairs shown in (24) and (25) below.

- (24) o-tíy-ε ku-γɔɾ-a
sBJ2sg-stop-sBJV INF-buy-FV
'Don't buy!'
(the addressee is in the shop and s/he has already started buying items)
- (25) u-tá-átj̃-a ku-γɔɾ-a
2sg-NEG-come-FV INF-buy-FV
'Don't buy!'
(the addressee has not started the act of buying but is still on his/her way to the shop)

The two negative auxiliaries described in this section are additionally used in other non-standard, or 'marked' clause types, where it would seem that this

retrospective-prospective division continue to hold and influence their usage patterns to some extent. This fact is further discussed in §2.4.

As mentioned, it is possible to form a directive construction by the use of the (standard) post-initial negative morpheme *ta-* plus the basic affirmative imperative verb form, a construction which, however, has been reinterpreted with non-negative senses. Notice, however, that some Ngoreme speakers contrast this essentially affirmative expression with an actual negative imperative verb form, which include an additional formative *ka(a)-* attached in a position between the negative prefix and the verb stem (26).

- (26) u-ta-káá-yi na a-βá-nto a-βa-sinéénu
 SBJ2SG-NEG-POT-go COM AUG-2-people AUG-2-bad
 ‘Don’t go (~get acquainted) with bad people.’

This prefix does not appear in non-negative constructions in Ngoreme. However, as further discussed in §4.8, it is used in several of the languages of the Northern Mara Bantu subgroup as a more general modal ~ irrealis ~ non-indicative marker (hence the glossing as POT = potential).

For some speakers of Ngoreme (possibly exclusively speakers of the northern Rogoro dialect), the prohibitive construction with *-Vtj̃-* once again has to include the additional prefix of the form *ka(a)-*, as in (27). Notice, however, that due to Dahl’s Law, a type of voicing dissimilation synchronically productive in Ngoreme (cf. §1 above), the velar plosive of the formative *ka(a)-* becomes a voiced /y/ in this construction. Additionally, the ‘underlying’ sequence of three vowels yielded by the combination of this form with this verb stem, viz. *°/kaa-Vtj̃-/*, is reduced to a sequence of two vowels in actual speech.

- (27) u-ta-yá-átj̃-a ko-rút-a e-siyára
 SBJ2SG-NEG-POT-come-FV INF-pull-FV AUG-9.cigarette
 ‘Don’t smoke the cigarette.’

Note finally that no special negators exist for interrogative clauses. It may be mentioned, however, that the post-initial strategy is preferred in content interrogation as the predicate is extra-focal in such contexts (see the discussion around example (80) in §4.3).

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Affirmative constructions in the present tense involving equation, proper inclusion and attribution (which have, along with locatives, existentials and posses-

sives, been labeled “stative predications” by e.g. [Payne 1997](#): 111ff; see also [Veselinova 2014](#)) are all formed the same way in Ngoreme, with the copula *nV=/N-*, as in (28).

- (28) e-ʔi-ʔɛsɔ ki-no ɲ=kj-éye
 AUG-7-knife 7-PROX.DEM COP=7-sharp
 ‘This knife is sharp.’

Locative predication on the other hand requires a full inflected copula verb agreeing with the subject. There are three copula verbs lending their forms to different temporal reference points: *-Vre*, *-Vni* and *-raβa*¹⁰ for past, present and future, respectively (see [Bernander & Laine 2020](#) for more on the copula verbs in Western Serengeti). The copula verbs take a subject marker, often preceded, like other verbs, by a focus marker. With copula constructions, however, the focus marker (formally similar and historically related to the ascriptive copula) is somewhat more productive, and may often appear on a different constituent, as in (29) exemplifying a present tense locative predication.

- (29) ɲááwa ɲ=kó-mo-te a-aní
 1a.cat FOC=LOC17-3-tree 1-PRS.COP
 ‘The cat is in the tree.’¹¹

The other types of stative predications also require the copula verb in the past and future tense. Copula verbs are also used for all stative predications when negated, in which case a negative prefix is added. As with other verbs, either the pre- or post-final negator may be used with copula verbs, and there is no distinction in meaning between, say, *te-ya-re* or *ya-ta-re* ‘it (CL6) is not’. In present and future forms, the copula verb itself changes when negated. The present tense *-Vni* becomes *-re*, as in (30) below, reflecting the fact that the affirmative present tense copula is an innovation in the Western Serengeti languages, and the older *-re* form, reconstructed for Proto-Bantu as **dɪ* ([Bastin et al. 2002](#)), is preserved in

¹⁰The “future copula” is quite transparently the verb ‘to be(come)’ in the imperfective, but it functions as part of the copula paradigm, always has a future reading, and must be used for future stative predications. Incidentally, Ngoreme has no morphological future tense for other verbs. For more on the cross-linguistically common grammaticalization of become-verbs into future markers (see [Dahl 2000](#) and [Kuteva et al. 2019](#): 86–87).

¹¹‘1a’ in this and other glossed examples refers to the so called noun class 1a, comprising a set of nouns “that lack a prefix in the singular [but] trigger class 1 agreement. It typically contains proper names, some kinship terms, personified animals and borrowings.” ([Van de Velde 2019b](#): 240).

negatives. In the future form, *-raβa* becomes *-kuβa*, with the affirmative imperfective prefix changing to the corresponding negative marker – again an older one – as with other verbs.

Examples of negated stative predications can be seen in the examples below which show equation (30–31), proper inclusion (32) and attribution (33–34).

- (30) tʃóóni ta-ré mra waito
John SBJ1.NEG-PRS.COP brother our
'John is not my brother.' (lit. 'our brother')
- (31) yá-no te-yá-re ma-hemba
6-PROX.DEM NEG-SBJ6-PRS.COP 6-millet
'This is not millet.'
- (32) eeni té-n-de mwánafunzi
I NEG-SBJ1SG-PRS.COP student
'I am not a student.'
- (33) eeni té-n-de m-támbe
I NEG-SBJ1SG-PRS.COP 1-tall
'I am not tall.'
- (34) e-yi-yɛsɔ kí-no te-ké-re kj-éye
AUG-7-knife 7-PROX.DEM NEG-7-PRS.COP 7-sharp
'This knife is not sharp.'

Negative locative predications are seen in (35–37) below.

- (35) e-yi-táβ te-ké-re ko-méza
AUG-7-book NEG-7-PRS.COP LOC17-table
'The book is not on the table.'
- (36) te-βá-re sokoni
NEG-2-PRS.COP at_the_market
'They [people] are not at the market.'
- (37) nǎáwa tá-re ko-mó-te
1a.cat SBJ1.NEG-PRS.COP LOC17-3-tree
'The cat is not in the tree.'

In present tense third person singular contexts, subject marking may be left out in favour of the invariable negative copula *tere* (or occasionally *tare*). There is some variation as to the form *tere* is deemed acceptable also with human subjects, with some speakers preferring *tare*, marked for noun class 1.¹²

Existentials in Ngoreme are formed and negated with a dedicated existential construction involving the same copula verbs as other stative predications (cf. Bernander & Laine 2020). A type of locative existential is formed by adding a locative pro-form (in the terminology of Bentley et al. 2013 and Bentley 2017) to a plain locational clause, namely the locative verbal clitic =*ho* (class 16) or =*mu* (class 18). These are added to the copula verb, as exemplified in the affirmative existential in (38) and the negated one in (39). Note that the word order in existentials is flexible and plays no role in negation (see Bernander & Laine 2020 for more).

- (38) βa-ani=hó a-βá-nto a-βa-néne a-βá-áru
 SBJ2-PRS.COP=LOC16 AUG-2-person AUG-2-fat AUG-2-many
 ‘There are many fat people.’

- (39) a-má-ntǽ ya-tá-re=mu mó-ndoa
 AUG-6-water SBJ6-NEG-PRS.COP=LOC18 LOC18-bucket.9
 ‘There is no water in the bucket.’

Possessive predication most typically utilizes a specific possessive verb -*γωτε* (from *kuyγωτα*, ‘to catch, to hold’). This can be seen in the examples below where -*γωτε* appears with the first person singular marker in (40) and can be negated as shown in (41) where the negative prefix *té-* also appears. The possessive verb -*γωτε* can also be used for inanimate possessors, as in (42) and (43).

- (40) né-η-γωτε e-séése
 SBJ1SG-have AUG-9.dog
 ‘I have a dog.’
- (41) té-η-γωτε séése
 NEG-SBJ1SG-have 9.dog
 ‘I don’t have a dog.’

¹²There is some obscurity with these forms, since *tare* is both a form unmarked for subject with the post-initial negator, and the class 1 form, where the negative prefix (either *te-* or *ta-*) and the subject marker *a-* coalesce into an undividable whole. On the other hand, *tere*, the non-agreeing form with the pre-initial negator, is homonymous with the form marking a class 9 subject.

- (42) e-númba é-no n-é-γɔɔtɛ e-ye-séku
 AUG-9.house 9-PROX.DEM FOC-SBJ9-have AUG-7-door
 ‘This house has a door.’
- (43) e-númba é-no te-γɔɔtɛ ye-séku
 AUG-9.house 9-PROX.DEM SBJ9.NEG-have 7-door
 ‘This house doesn’t have a door.’

Alternatively, a comitative construction with the comitative element *nV*, prefixed with the subject marker, can be used. Both this and the *-γɔɔtɛ* form can be negated with either a pre- or post-final negator. Note the absence of the augment in the negative construction in example (45), in contrast to example (44)

- (44) níí-ne e-séése
 1SG-COM AUG-9.dog
 ‘I have a dog.’
- (45) n-tá-na séése
 1SG-NEG-COM 9.dog
 ‘I don’t have a dog.’

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Different strategies of non-main clause negation can be found in Ngoreme. The first strategy is simply to use standard morphological negation. For almost all non-main clauses, however, only the post-initial prefix may be employed. For example, the relative clause in (46) contrasts with the negated main clause in (47) where either a pre- or post-initial prefix may be used. (The relativizer originates from a demonstrative as can be seen in example (46) where the identical element occurs twice, representing both meanings.)

- (46) βí-no ne=e-βj-ákori βí-no n-tá-áyo-tun-a
 8-DEM COP=AUG-8-food 8-REL SBJ1SG-NEG-IPFV-want-FV
 ‘This is food that I don’t want.’
- (47) e-βj-ákori βí-no té-ŋ-ko-βe-tun-a
 AUG-8-food 8-DEM NEG-SBJ1SG-IPFV-OM8-want-FV
 ‘This food, I don’t want (it).’

Relative clauses are in general construed with the post-initial negative prefix. Furthermore, several types of adverbial clause constructions are derived from a relative construction with the locative noun class 16 relativizer *háno*. Consider example (48) which relativizes a locative head noun subject – viz. the generic *ahase* ‘place’, but which could also be analysed as functioning as a locative clause.

- (48) *tu-ra-yí musóma a-há-se há-no tu-ta-mɛɲ-ire*
 SBJ1PL-IPFV-go Musoma AUG-16-place 16-REL SBJ1PL-NEG-live-PFV
 ‘We are going to Musoma, a place where (~at which) we don’t live.’

The construction with the locative relativizer recurs in several negated adverbial clause constructions, not only in negative locative clauses or temporal clauses like (52) below. It also occurs in “anti-circumstantial” clauses – viz., abessive-like ‘without’-constructions (cf. §3.3), but where the absentee is not a nominal referent but an event coded in a dependent clause (cf. Caterina & Sansò 2019; Bernander, Devos, et al. 2023) like (49), as well as (at least some types of) negative conditional clauses, as evident in (50). Being formally equal to relative constructions, these types of adverbial clauses are also negated with the post-initial prefix.

- (49) *te-mú-n-saiy-ire ha-no mu-tá-maɲ-ire*
 NEG-SBJ2PL-OBJ1SG-like-PFV 16-REL SBJ2PL-NEG-know-PFV
 ‘You detest me (lit. don’t like me) without knowing me.’
- (50) *há-no a-ta-n-dɛh-iire e-náuri*
 16-REL SBJ1-NEG-OBJ1SG-pay-APPL:PFV AUG-9.ticket
te-ɲ-ku-yárɔk-a ká
 NEG-SBJ1-IPFV-return-FV home
 ‘If he does not pay me for my ticket, I will not go back home.’

As mentioned in §2.1, the subject markers for 2SG and noun classes 1, 3 and 9 fuse with the negative prefix, yielding the opaque forms *to-*, *ta-*, *to-* and *te-*, and in these cases there is no distinction between post- and pre-initial negators. In relative clauses as well as in other subordinate clauses derived from relatives, however, these fused forms become separated, reflecting the use of post-initial *ta-* in all non-main clause cases, with which it is clearly connected. In example (51), this is illustrated for class 9 in a canonical verb, while (52) shows the 2SG prefix separating on a copula verb.

- (51) ha-no n=a-há-se ha-no é-ŋ-ka i-tá-áko-γwem-a
 16-DEM COP=AUG-16-place 16-REL AUG-9-lion SBJ9-NEG-IPFV-hunt-FV
 ‘This is an area where the lion doesn’t hunt.’
- (52) n-aa-γí-íre wáátʃo ká ha-no u-ta-aré=ho
 SBJ1SG-PST-go-PFV yours home 16-REL SBJ2SG-NEG-PST.COP-16.LOC
 ‘I went to your place when you weren’t there.’

Negated reason clauses, indicated with the subordinator *yo kuβa* not by a relativizer, an exception to the hegemony of post-initial negative morphology in non-main clauses. As seen in (53), a reason clause may instead be negated with pre-initial negation, probably as it is not derived from a relative clause but more likely is paratactic in origin.

- (53) ta-a-γu-tór-a kw-ándek-a yó kuβa ta-a-na e-karámu
 NEG-SBJ1-IPFV-can-FV INF-write-FV for that NEG-SBJ1-COM AUG-9.pencil
 ‘She cannot write because she has no [lit. is not with a] pencil.’

In addition to these instances of morphological negation, the two negative auxiliary verbs (discussed in detail in §2.2) also have an extended use in non-main clauses beyond being prohibitives. The functional retrospective-prospective division between them, as described around example (24) and (25) in §2.2 above, seems to continue to influence the choice of a particular negative verb here as well. This fact may be illustrated with the following two purpose clauses, where the choice of auxiliary verb depends on the context, i.e., whether the full verb in the dependent clause refers to a prospective or retrospective event. Thus, the proposition in (54) would not be felicitous with *-tiy-* as that would suggest that the participants have already been captured. Following a similar line of reasoning, the construction with *-Vtʃ-* is dis-preferred in (55) as the proposition is meant to highlight the termination of a situation which has already started and continues to hold.

- (54) βa-γá-átʃ-a há-no βa-tá-átʃ-a ku-γɔt-ú na
 SBJ2-NARR-come-FV 16-DEM 2-NEG-come-FV INF-catch-PASS COM
 a-βa-sírikare
 AUG-2-police
 ‘They came here so that they would not get caught by the police.’

- (55) $\beta a-ra-s\acute{a}am-\epsilon r-a$ $h\acute{a}-no$ $musoma$ $\beta a-t\acute{y}-\epsilon$ $ku-n\acute{a}nki-\beta u$
 SBJ2-IPFV-move-APPL-FV 16-DEM Musoma SBJ2-stop-SBJV INF-annoy-PASS
 na $a-\beta a-t\acute{a}nki$
 COM AUG-2-state
 ‘They are moving here to Musoma so that they will not be harassed by
 the state (anymore).’

Affirmative purpose clauses are inflected in the subjunctive form in Ngoreme, as is common across Bantu (see Nurse & Devos 2019; Devos 2008). This is particularly the case when the main clause and the subordinate clause do not refer to the same participant(s), as in (56). The use of non-declarative strategies for the negation of purpose clauses could thus be seen as a direct reflection of the affirmative situation, where the subjunctive is used both for milder commands in the imperative-hortative domain as well as for subordination.

- (56) $n-tw-a-t\acute{a}nw-ire$ $\alpha k\alpha\alpha r\acute{i}$ taata $a-k\alpha r-\epsilon$ $kw-\epsilon y-i$
 FOC-SBJ1PL-PST-leave-PFV COMP 1a.father SBJ1-do-SBJV INF-sweep-CAUS
 ‘We left so that father could tidy up.’

Note, however, that when there is co-referentiality between the subject participant(s) of the main and dependent clause, affirmative purpose clauses may be expressed with the infinitive in Ngoreme. In this sense, examples (54) and (55) above could just as well be argued to illustrate negated non-finite dependent clauses. Compare (54) with the affirmative reason clause in (57) below.

- (57) $\beta a-y\acute{a}-\acute{a}t\acute{f}-a$ $h\acute{a}-no$ $ko-n\acute{u}i\beta-a$
 SBJ2-NARR-come-FV 16-DEM INF-create-FV
 ‘They came here to create a new life (for themselves).’

Thus, non-finite clauses may be negated, but only through the negative (auxiliary) verb strategy (that is, morphological negation is not accepted here). Infinitives functioning as a nominal head of a clause may also be negated, again with negative verbs, as illustrated in (58) and (59). In this case, both verbs occur in the infinitive form. Notice that there is an augment prefix on the negative verb *oyutíya* ‘to stop’ and *okwángga* ‘to refuse’ but not on the lexical verbs (cf. §4.3) and furthermore that the adjective agrees with the verbs. Because of the distinct nominal components of the infinitive in these particular constructions, they are here glossed as (noun class) 15, i.e., the noun class that infinitives are associated with.¹³ Interestingly, it seems that the construction with $-Vt\acute{f}-$ cannot be used in

¹³For more on this dual nature of the Bantu infinitives, see e.g., Schadeberg (2003).

this context. Instead, another inherently negative verb, namely *-ang-* ‘refuse’, is used along with *-tiy-*.¹⁴

- (58) o-yu-tiy-a ko-pó a-ma-ro η=gu-tj́ómu
 AUG-15-stop-FV INF-drink AUG-6-homebrew COP=15-good
 ‘Not to drink (~not drinking) (locally brewed) beer is good.’

- (59) o-kw-áng-a yu-sám-a a-má-ro η=gu-tj́ómu
 AUG-15-refuse-FV INF-try-FV AUG-6-homebrew COP=15-good
 ‘Not to taste (~not tasting) (locally brewed) beer is good.’

A final category of non-main clause negation strategies that occur in Ngoreme is Swahili borrowings (~code-switching). These include *badala (ya)* ‘instead of’ + infinitive verb for the expression of substitutive clauses and *bila (ya)* ‘without’ + infinitive verb which constitute an alternative negative strategy for (anti-)circumstantial clauses (cf. the further discussion on abessive-like constructions in §3.3).¹⁵

Table 2 summarizes the different negative strategies discussed in this section in relation to clause type. Although this list of non-main clause types is non-exhaustive (see, e.g., Thompson et al.’s (2007) typological taxonomy which mentions no less than 12 different subtypes of adverbial clauses alone), it most likely covers the range of variation in negative strategies that are to be found in this domain in Ngoreme. Recall from §2.1. that some morphological TAM categories in Ngoreme associated with subordinate clauses, such as the conditional and the situative, may not be negated.

Before closing this section on negative non-main clauses, it should be pointed out that in §4.7 we describe the use of the *nondum* (further discussed in §2.6) for expressing successional ‘before’-clauses, viz. the use of a negative construction for a *non-negative* non-main clausal function.

¹⁴The marker *-ang* is also used by some speakers even for expressing negative imperatives (§2.2.) and negative subordinates (this section). Its usage in these domains appears to be much more widespread in the other Western Serengeti languages, however.

¹⁵Note that these subordinators have been borrowed into Ngoreme from Swahili which itself had borrowed these from Arabic. It has been argued for Swahili (Lodhi 1994, Wald 2001, Schadeberg 2009) that their incorporation came with a more profound structural re-configuration where more analytic structures consisting of subordinators and nominalized verbs came to replace synthetic structures with negative verbal morphology. These Swahili loans are relatively marginal clause types in Ngoreme but we include them here and in Table 2 in the interests of completeness.

Table 2: Non-main clauses negation strategies (non-exhaustive, generalized overview)

Formal clause type	Functional clause subtypes	Negation strategy
Relatives	relative > locational, temporal, circumstantial, conditional	post-initial prefix <i>ta-</i>
Coordination with <i>go kuba</i>	reason	pre-initial prefix <i>ti-/te-</i>
Subjunctive	purpose	negative verbs <i>-tíy-</i> ‘stop’, <i>-Vtí-</i> ‘come’ (+ NEG)
Non-finite clauses	co-referential purpose, as nominalized heads	negative verbs <i>-tíy-</i> ‘stop’, <i>-áŋg-</i> ‘refuse’
Swahili loans	substitutive, circumstantial	negative prepositions <i>badala</i> ‘instead’, <i>bila</i> ‘without’

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

We have no examples of lexically idiosyncratic negatives in Ngoreme.

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions – the nondum

The conceptual category of ‘not yet’, sometimes referred to as a *nondum* (e.g., Veselinova & Devos 2021) is included in the onomasiological grid of phasal polarity, i.e., “structured means of expressing polarity in a sequential perspective” (van Baar 1997: 40; cf. Kramer 2017). Two different constructions may be used (interchangeably, as far as we have been able to tell) to mark this concept in Ngoreme. The constructions are formally linked to the conceptually related positive phasal polarity expressions of ‘still’ and ‘already’ respectively (cf. Kramer 2017, Veselinova & Devos 2021).

As illustrated in (60), one kind of nondum-construction in Ngoreme consists of the copula-like form SBJ-*kéere* ‘still’ (consisting of a subject marker and most likely the persistive prefix **kír-* + copula **-dĩ*, all parts reconstructible for Proto-Bantu, e.g., Nurse 2008: 246–249) and a full verb occurring in the infinitival form.

- (60) a-má-ándasi ya-kéere yu-terek-u
 AUG-6-doughnut SBJ6-still INF-cook-PASS
 ‘The *maandazis* (~doughnuts) have not been prepared yet.’

Notice that there is no explicit negative material used in this nondum-construction, intriguing from a typological perspective as negatives without negators are a rare trait cross-linguistically (cf. Miestamo 2010). It is not clear whether “not yet” is

a conventionalized meaning or whether such a negative reading is (still) only inferred from the combination of *kéére* ‘still’ with an infinitive verb, viz. ‘be still to X’ > ‘be not yet X’ (cf. [Güldemann 1998](#), [Nurse 2008](#): 147–148, [Veselinova & Devos 2021](#)). One indication that the meaning of *SBJ-keere* is not just compositional is the fact that it conveys a negative interpretation when occurring alone as in the negative answer in (61).¹⁶

- (61) Q: w-iyɔti-ire
 SBJ2SG-become_satiated-PRV
 ‘Are you full?’
 A: ɲ-kéére
 SBJ1SG-still
 ‘Not yet.’

Another kind of nondum-construction in Ngoreme consists of the negated verb *-mar-* ‘finish’ – also used in the conceptually related expression of ‘already’ (see [Bernander, Laine, et al. 2023](#)), as well as marking ‘before’ (example (90), §4.5) – plus a second verb expressing the main event of the proposition.¹⁷ As shown in examples (62) and (63), both the pre-initial and the post-initial negative prefix may be employed in forming this type of nondum-expression.

- (62) tu-tá-á-mar-a tu-ɣɔr-a e-ɲɔmbɛ je-re
 SBJ1PL-NEG-PRF-finish-FV SBJ1PL-buy-FV AUG-9.cow 9-DEM
 ‘We haven’t bought this cow yet.’
- (63) ti-ná-á-mar-a m-máɲ-a ku-ɣámb-a
 NEG-SBJ1SG-PRF-finish-FV SBJ1SG-(come_to)know-FV INF-speak-FV
 e-kí-ɲɲeresá
 AUG-7-English
 ‘I don’t know (lit. haven’t come to know) (how) to speak English yet.’

Finally, it should be mentioned that both markers associated with the expression of ‘not yet’ may be combined, yielding a more emphatic reading of disbelief,

¹⁶The form *-keere* denotes the positive meaning ‘still’ when operating on finite verbs or non-verbal predicates. The reading of negative or positive continuation thus depends on the constructional context (viz. infinite vs finite) and not the internal phase structure of the predicate (verb), as in some Malayo-Polynesian languages (see [Veselinova et al. 2024](#)).

¹⁷Both verb forms in this construction are odd. Most likely they are retentions of synchronically obsolete TA conjugations. *SBJ-a-B-a* is most likely a remnant of a perfect aspect verb form (and hence tentatively glossed as such) and *SBJ-Ø-B-a* a (dependent) present tense, found in other Mara languages (e.g. neighboring Kuria; [Cammenga 2004](#): 286–287).

irritation and counter-expectation, similar to that of ‘still not’ in English (cf. van Baar 1997: 2). Example (64) is a case in point.

- (64) róóbi kana o-kéére u-tá-á-mar-a
 Rhobi oh SBJ2SG-still SBJ2SG-NEG-PRF-finish-FV
 o-swár-a
 SBJ2SG-wear_clothes-FV
 ‘Oh Rhobi, are you STILL NOT dressed?!’ (I have told you three times already)

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

While the affirmation ‘*ee*’ and denial ‘*a-a*’ are used by Ngoreme-speakers, the language does not have dedicated one-word affirmative or negative replies. As such, answers to polar questions typically require a full sentence in response, as in (65) below.

- (65) Q: βóóno é-η-ka te-eku-ηᵛᵛᵛᵛ-a he
 now AUG-9-lion NEG.9-IPFV-roar-FV NEG
 ‘Is the lion not roaring?’
 A: n-ku-ηᵛᵛᵛᵛ-a j-eni
 FOC-INF-roar-FV SBJ9-PRS.COP
 ‘[Yes,] it is roaring.’

As regards replies to negative questions, answering the above question in (65) with ‘*a-a*’ means that the lion is indeed not roaring; answering ‘*ee*’ contrasts the negation in the question, meaning that the lion *is* roaring.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

In line with the broader cross-Bantu pattern, Ngoreme does not have indefinite pronouns; instead, words such as *omónto* ‘person’, *eyénto* ‘thing’ or *aháse* ‘place’ can be used to mean ‘someone’, ‘something’ and ‘somewhere’. The word best translated as ‘somebody’ is *ḡáni*, which refers to a particular, known somebody, as seen in (66). Most likely, this is a borrowing originally from Luo, a West Nilotic language (cf. Tucker 1994: 529).

- (66) *ɲáni a-aní há-áre*
 someone SBJ1-PRS.COP 16-DIST.DEM
 ‘Someone (particular) is there.’

The word *ɲáni* can also be used in a negative context as in (67), but the meaning remains that of a particular someone, and not ‘nobody’.

- (67) *há-áre ɲáni tá-re=ho*
 16-DIST.DEM someone NEG-PRS.COP=LOC16
 ‘(A certain) someone is not there.’

For expressing ‘nobody’, the aforementioned word *omónto* ‘person’ is used with a negative verb, as in (68).

- (68) *mó-nto tá-á-tʃ-ire*
 1-person NEG.SBJ1-PST-come-PFV
 ‘Nobody came.’

Similarly, the word *eyénto* ‘thing’ can be used to mean both ‘something’ and ‘nothing’ as in (69) and (70–71), depending on the polarity of the verb.

- (69) *né-ɲ-gɔɔtɛ e-ye-nto*
 FOC-SBJ1SG-have AUG-7-thing
 ‘I have something ~ I have a/the thing.’
- (70) *té-ɲ-gɔɔtɛ ye-nto*
 NEG-SBJ1SG-have 7-thing
 ‘I don’t have anything.’
- (71) *té-ɲ-gu-tɔr-a ku-rɔr-a ye-nto*
 NEG-SBJ1SG-IPFV-be_able-FV INF-see-FV 7-thing
 ‘I can’t see anything.’

Finally, in (72), the word *aháse* ‘place’ is used to convey the meaning ‘nowhere’. Note that in all of these negated contexts, the augment vowel disappears. It may, however, be used to mark specificity or referentiality even under negation, as in (73), where a reading of ‘nowhere’ is not available. For more on the augment and the scope of negation, see §4.3.

- (72) *tááta tá-á-yi-ire ha-se*
 1a.father NEG.SBJ1-PST-go-PFV 16-place
 ‘My father didn’t go anywhere.’

- (73) éwe tá-á-yi-ire a-há-se
 3SG NEG.SBJ1-PST-go-PFV AUG-16-place
 ‘(S)he didn’t go to a (certain) place.’

In §4.4, the reinforcing negative particle *he* is examined. Among its other meanings, it can also have a reading of ‘never’, as shown in (74).

- (74) e-saariyɔɔkɔ té-éku-rayɔr-a he
 AUG-9.cock SBJ9.NEG-IPFV-CROW-FV NEG
 ‘The cock never crows.’

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Ngoreme does not have special means for achieving negative derivation or abessive-like morphemes. Instead, other phrases or full clauses may be employed. For example, to express an abessive meaning of ‘without something’ a juxtaposed negative possessive clause is used, as in (75).

- (75) a-βá-nto βa-no βa-ra-rááyɛr-a βa-tá-ána βi-tʃíiko
 AUG-2-person 2-PROX.DEM SBJ2-IPFV-eat-FV SBJ2-NEG-COM 8-spoon
 ‘These people eat without spoons.’ (lit. ‘These people eat, they do not have spoons’)

Alternatively, the Swahili preposition *bila* (originally from Arabic *bilā*) is often used for ‘without’: *bila ~ βira βi-tʃíiko* ‘without spoons’. See also §4.5 on negative coordination of the type *neither...nor*.

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

In Eastern Bantu languages the pre-initial prefix is often portrayed as having scope over the whole proposition whereas the post-initial prefix and negative auxiliaries have scope over the verbal (macro-)stem / lexical complement, marking different types of non-standard negation (Nurse 2008: 193–194; Güldemann 1999). This division is not clear-cut in Ngoreme as the post-initial prefix may also be used in standard negation where it has scope over the whole proposition. The diachronic factors at play that further explains this synchronic situation in Ngoreme are discussed in §4.8. See also section 4.3 for marking of NPs in the scope of negation. As far as we are aware, prosodic prominence is not employed in the marking of negative scope in Ngoreme.

4.2 Negative polarity

We have not come across any specialized negative polarity items in Ngoreme. The presence versus absence of the augment is a polarity phenomenon discussed in §4.3.

As discussed in §3.2, Ngoreme has no specific indefinite pronouns. Instead, meanings such as ‘someone’, ‘something’ and ‘somewhere’, and their negative counterparts, are expressed through appropriate nouns (‘person’, ‘thing’, ‘place’). While Ngoreme also doesn’t necessarily distinguish between English examples such as ‘we don’t have food’ and ‘we don’t have *any* food (at all)’, a similar reading can be achieved by the reinforcing particle *he* as described in §4.4 below.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

As touched upon already in §1, §3.2 and §4.2, augments – i.e. pre-prefixes attached to nominal class prefixes on nouns – are typically omitted when the nouns appear within the scope of negation. Compare (76) with (77). (see also (69) vs. (70)).

(76) o-ra-βúsur-a a-ma-hɛmba
 SBJ2SG-IPFV-plant-FV AUG-6-millet
 ‘You plant (the) millet.’

(77) te-tó-óko-ruy-a ma-hɛmba
 NEG-SBJ1PL-IPFV-cook-FV 6-millet
 ‘We are not cooking millet.’

However, as has been described for several other Bantu languages (see e.g. Givón 1978, Van de Velde 2019a, Miestamo 2014), the augment may be attached to a noun phrase also under negative scope to signal specificity (or referentiality). Consider the two examples below, seen also above in §3.2. While the augment is not normally present under negation as in (78), in (79) it is used for specificity; a reading of ‘anywhere/nowhere’ is not possible here.

(78) tááta ta-a-yi-ire ha-sɛ
 1a.father NEG-PST-go-PFV 16-place
 ‘My father didn’t go anywhere.’

(79) éwe tá-á-yi-ire a-há-sɛ
 3SG NEG.SBJ1-PST-go-PFV AUG-16-place
 ‘(S)he didn’t go to a (certain) place.’

There does not seem to be such strong incompatibility effects between negation and focus in Ngoreme, as described for other (West) African languages, such as Saharan Kanuri (Cyffer 2009; see also Miestamo 2014). The focus nasal marker cannot occur in the pre-initial position of the verb when negated (cf. §2.1). However, a negated verb does seem to be able to co-occur with the nasal when it is used for (term) focus on a (fronted) noun phrase. This is shown in (80a), where ‘father’ is an answer to an information question (and hence inherently focused; cf. e.g. Lambrecht 1994: 282–286). As seen in (80b), negation may also co-occur with a type of alternative focus formation where the nasal is attached to a resumptive pronoun. Notice also that the negation of the verb is conveyed by the post-initial prefix.

- (80) a. n=tááta a-tá-á-mar-a a-m-tóóri
 FOC=1.father SBJ1-NEG-PRF-finish-FV SBJ1-OBJ1-help
 ‘Father has not helped her yet.’
 b. tááta n=éwe a-tá-á-mar-a a-m-tóóri
 1.father FOC=3SG SBJ1-NEG-PRF-finish-FV SBJ1-OBJ1-help
 ‘Father has not helped her yet.’
 (Both a and b answers to question: ‘Who has not helped her cleaning yet?’)

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The main element used for reinforcing negation is the particle *he*. It is only used in main clauses where it appears in a clause-final position. At least for some Ngoreme speakers, it may also have a more specific reading of ‘completeness’. This would link to the etymology proposed by Rose (2001) for a corresponding particle in neighboring Kuria as being a borrowed Luo completive ideophone. For example, the addition of *he* to the negative existential example (38) – here re-stated as (81) – would imply that there is not a single drop left in the bucket.

- (81) a-má-nt̪e ya-tá-re=mu mo-ndóa he
 AUG-6-water SBJ6-NEG-PRS.COP=LOC18 LOC18-bucket NEG
 ‘There is no (~ complete absence of) water in the bucket.’

We have also already seen in (74) (§3.2 above), that *he* may be used to convey ‘never’, i.e. a stronger or more emphatic denial in more general terms. As further discussed in §4.8, it appears that *he* in this role as an emphatic negative reinforcer has been enrolled in an ongoing Jespersen’s Cycle-like grammaticalization process.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

The most common coordination strategy in Ngoreme is the use of a coordinator *na* (formally identical to the comitative marker). This coordinator is used with both affirmative (82) and negative clauses (83). While the coordinator remains the same regardless of the polarity of the clauses, both verbs in coordinated negative clauses need to be fully inflected. This contrasts with the situation in affirmative cases, as in (82), where the latter clause may have an infinitive verb form when the subject and tense-aspect-mood information is shared across in the two clauses.

- (82) n-tw-a-rí-íre e-βj-ákori no kó-ɲo a-má-ro
 FOC-SBJ1PL-PST-eat-PFV AUG-8-food and INF-drink AUG-6-alcohol
 ‘We ate food and drank alcohol.’

- (83) tu-tá-á-raay-ire na tu-tá-á-ɲw-ere
 SBJ1PL-NEG-PST-eat-PFV and SBJ1PL-NEG-PST-drink-PFV
 ‘We did not eat or drink.’

In (84) two negated clauses with different subjects are coordinated. Example (85) has an affirmative clause followed by a negative one. The coordinator *na* is used in both cases, as above.

- (84) te-n-áá-mar-a n-duy-a βj-ákori
 NEG-SBJ1SG-PRF-finish-FV SBJ1SG-cook-FV 8-food
 ‘I have not cooked food’

 na a-βá-ána te-βá-á-mar-a βa-raayɛr-a
 and AUG-2-child NEG-SBJ2-PRF-finish-FV SBJ2-eat-FV
 ‘and the children have not eaten.’

- (85) n-aa-rú-úre musoma na tááta tá-á-yi-ire ha-sɛ
 SBJ1SG-PST-leave-PFV Musoma and 1a.father NEG-PST-go-PFV 16-place
 ‘I left Musoma and my father didn’t go anywhere.’

Often, a disjunctive coordinator *au*, borrowed from Swahili, is used instead of the more general coordination marker *na*. Another loanword, *waara* ‘neither’ (from Sw. *wala*, originally from Arabic *wa-lā* ‘and not’) can be used for coordinating negative clauses coordinator (86), although the same meaning could be communicated with *na*.

- (86) tá-á-hontǰók-ire ika waara tá-á-tɛm-ire e-síimu
 NEG.SBJ1-PST-return-PFV home neither NEG.SBJ1-PST-hit-PFV AUG-9.phone
 ‘He didn’t come home, nor did he call.’

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Metalinguistic negation

In (87), we see an example of metalinguistic negation. As can be seen on the basis of this example, it is possible to say that Amani does not have three children when stressing the fact that, in fact, he has more.

- (87) amááni tá-re βá-ána βa-tato a-γɔɔtɛ, m=ba-ne
 Amani NEG-PRS.COP 2-child 2-three SBJ1-have COP=2-four
 ‘Amani doesn’t have three children, but four.’

The example is formally interesting. The subject is followed by a negated copula, in turn followed by an affirmative clause (*βáána βatato aγɔɔtɛ* ‘he has three children’) falling under the scope of negation; the entire sentence is literally something along the lines of “Amani, it is not [that] he has three children, it is four”. Note that the ‘affirmative’ clause shows behaviour typical of negated contexts (see §2.1): the object, *βáána* ‘children’, has no augment vowel, and there is no focus marker on the possessive verb. The negative copula is glossed as having a pre-initial negator alone, but, as mentioned in §2.3, there is an alternative analysis of agreement with the subject, since a form unmarked for subject is homonymous with class 1 agreement.

While interesting, this is an isolated example in our data, and should not be considered definitively indicative of all metalinguistic negation in Ngoreme.

4.7 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

As mentioned briefly in §2.2 on negation in non-declaratives, the use of the (standard) post-initial negative morpheme *ta-* plus the basic affirmative imperative verb form does not convey negation in Ngoreme (unlike its Western Serengeti relatives) but has developed a specialized reading. Rather, it functions as a polar, affirmative directive (together with a sense of urging or imploring), roughly translatable as ‘why don’t you X’ ~ ‘do X’. This is illustrated in examples (88) and (89).

- (88) u-tá-ɣɔr-a n-go-ku-ɣájɛ-a to-oní
 SBJ2SG-NEG-buy-FV FOC-INF-OBJ2SG-wait-FV SBJ1PL-PRS.COP
 ‘Go ahead and buy (now), we are waiting for you!’
- (89) n-da-ku-sáβ-a u-ta-tánɔr-a o-ru há-no
 SBJ1SG-IPFV-OBJ2SG-beg-FV SBJ2SG-NEG-leave-FV SBJ2SG-go_away 16-DEM
 ‘Please, why don’t you just leave!’

Another case of a non-negative use of a negative construction in Ngoreme relates to temporal-adverbial ‘before’-clauses. As illustrated in (90), these are not expressed with a conjunction but rather an auxiliary construction consisting of the verb *-mar-* (‘finish’) and the post-initial negative prefix, *tá-* in the example below.

- (90) w-i-ku-ɣɔr-a tʃĩ-jaana e-ke-rúutu
 SBJ2sg-ITV-INF-buy-FV AUG-10.tomatoes AUG-7-darkness
 yi-tá-á-mar-a ke-hík-a
 SBJ7-NEG-PRF-finish-FV SBJ7-arrive-FV
 ‘(You should) go and buy tomatoes before it gets dark.’

Notice that this construction of temporal subordination is in essence formally identical and hence most likely metonymically related to one of the ‘not yet’/nondum-constructions discussed in §2.6, which adheres to a cross-linguistically common pattern of polysemy (van Baar 1997: 275–276, 291) which has also been observed to occur in Bantu (Veselinova & Devos 2021).

4.8 Diachronic observations

From a historical-comparative point of view it would seem that the negation system of Ngoreme is in a state of flux relative to its more conservative Western Serengeti relatives. As indicated above, there are signs of ongoing change in negation strategies associated with both standard and non-standard clauses in Ngoreme.

To begin with, in relation to the pre-initial negator in the standard negation domain, Ngoreme seems to be moving away from its relatives and is instead employing a more canonical Bantu pattern of negation. This pattern can, in a simplified manner, be characterized as consisting of a functional division of labour between a pre-initial negator used for standard clauses and a post-initial negator used for non-standard clauses (cf. Güldemann 1996: 248–313, Güldemann 1999;

Nurse 2008: 179–201; cf. also the interrelated note on scope in §4.1).¹⁸ Güldemann (1999: 578) distinguishes four specific “distribution patterns” of pre-initial and post-initial negation:

1. Post-initial only, in all clause types
2. Post-initial in all clauses & pre-initial alternations in main clauses
3. Post-initial in non-declaratives + non-main clauses & pre-initial in main clauses
4. Pre-initial only (or at least pre-dominantly)

Note that these four “patterns” are not categorically suggested as (diachronic) stages, but rather as synchronically attested tendencies across the Bantu speaking area. However, given the comparative data from the Lacustrine languages (Güldemann 1996: 288–294, Güldemann 1999: f.n. 43), it is clear that pre-initial negation is a newer development in this genealogical group with the variation of distributional patterns detected between the different languages instantiating different stages of maturation. Thus, whereas the Western Serengeti relatives are all still in Stage 1, Ngoreme is to be categorized somewhere between Stage 2 and 3. The in-between status in this language emanates from the facts provided in this paper. That is, on the one hand, the post-initial clearly is the default choice for standard negation in Ngoreme without any pragmatic overtones. On the other, however, there are still cases in the language where the post-initial negative prefix is used for standard negation. One example of this is the use of the post-initial with the auxiliary *-mar-* ‘finish’ for expressing ‘not yet’ (cf. §2.6). Compare Rose (2001) who suggests a similar ‘not-yet’-construction with a post-initial negator in neighboring Kuria to be a relic exactly along this line of reasoning. In this respect, it is also interesting to note that the nondum-expression with a post-initial negative prefix cannot be used together with the emphatic post-verbal particle *he*. Conversely, the construction with pre-initial negation may not be used in subordinate (temporal adverbial) clauses where *-mar-* + NEG is used for expressing ‘before’ (cf. §4.7).

Along with the innovation of pre-initial negation, Ngoreme also seems to have been enrolled in a Jespersen’s Cycle-like process, i.e., the grammaticalization scenario where an element initially introduced for reinforcing negative expressions

¹⁸Güldemann (1999) suggests that the pre-initial negator is introduced for explicit correction or contradiction of a previous utterance. No specific evidence for this has been found for Ngoreme, however.

turns into the negative marker itself (see e.g., van der Auwera 2010, Devos & van der Auwera 2013). Interestingly, this development in Ngoreme adheres to an areal phenomenon, being a shared trait with its North Mara neighbours and even varieties of the Greater Luhya cluster spoken further north in Kenya (cf. Devos & van der Auwera 2013). The strategy of negation with the particle *he* (cf. §4.4) in main clauses in Ngoreme is reminiscent of the inceptive stages of Jespersen's Cycle where the post-verbal particle is neither obligatory nor neutral but is still used to add a sense of emphasis to the proposition. Ngoreme thus contrasts with its northern neighbours Simbiti (Walker & Overton 2018) and Kuria (e.g., Rose 2001) which have moved further along the cycle of obligatorification and bleaching. For Kuria, Rose (2001: 94) even mentions contexts where the pre-initial negative prefix rather than the negative post-verbal particle is the optional component. An additional indication of the less grammaticalized status of this negative construction in Ngoreme relative to its northern neighbours, is the fact that the use of *he* has not spread (i.e., generalised) to non-declarative and non-main clauses.

There are ongoing changes that also seem to take place in the domain(s) of non-standard negation. As seen in §2.2. and §2.4, inherently negative verbs have been recruited into auxiliaries, increasingly replacing the original post-initial negator. This is not surprising from a Bantu perspective as negation in non-declaratives is "a major conduit through which innovation occurs" (Nurse 2008: 191). In this regard, it may further be noticed, that as auxiliary constructions of the form found in Ngoreme – i.e., with a finite auxiliary and infinite full verb – move further along the pathway of verb-to-affix grammaticalisation the erstwhile auxiliary tends to end up as a post-initial prefix, and thus re-initiate the same patterns described above (cf. Güldemann 1996: 261–284, Güldemann 1999; see also Nurse 2008: 194–196).

There is some semantic evidence that these auxiliaries are dedicated prohibitives and not merely "indirect prohibitive speech acts" (van der Auwera 2010: 89). To begin with, they are back translated as prohibitives into Swahili (the meta-language during elicitation sessions) by the consultants and thus they are arguably "harmonic" with a simplex prohibitive verb form. Furthermore, there are indications for that these verbs have undergone semantic bleaching/relaxation relative to their etymons. Hence, as negators they may describe non-agentive events and operate on second verbs in direct opposition to their original lexical semantics (e.g. *-Vĩf-* + 'go' or *-tiy-* + a resultative achievement verb like 'sit') as well as to co-occur with their own lexical etymons, e.g. *tíya kotíya* 'don't stop' (cf. Heine 1993: 60–61, Heine 2002). However, we have encountered little if any formal evidence for these auxiliaries having a more grammatical(ised) status in

relation to their lexical sources. Hence, following Heine (1993: 61), they can be seen as (still) being in a “budding stage”.

With regard to etymology, the use of the verb *-tiy-* ‘stop, leave off’ as a prohibitive is not surprising from a typological point of view, given its “inherently negative”, cessative lexical meaning (cf. Aikhenvald 2010: 358–359; van der Auwera 2010). The reflex of this specific verb is also a typical source for a prohibitive across the Bantu family (see e.g., Nurse 2008: 183 who lists **-tig-* as “one of the auxiliaries most involved in negation”), including for several languages closely related to Ngoreme, e.g., Kwaya (kya; JE251; Sillery 1932: 283–284; Odom 2016). The strategy of forming a prohibitive auxiliary by combining (morphological) negation plus ‘come’ is much rarer, but not unheard of for Bantu (cf. Myene (mye; B11) mentioned by Devos & Van Olmen (2013: 33)) and can be taken to adhere to a general cross-linguistic trend of ‘come (to)’ being recruited to express affirmative directives as well as various grammatical expressions with prospective readings (cf. Kuteva et al. 2019: 92–94, 101–107 and references therein). Examples from Ngoreme’s closest relatives include the cognate ‘come’-verb being recruited into a ‘when’-subordinator in Ikoma (Robinson 2015), and as a future tense marker in Nata (cf. Osa-Gomez del Campo 2014).

It may further be hypothesized that the introduction of prohibitive auxiliary verbs into Ngoreme was connected to the functional lacuna which the reinterpretation of the synthetic negative imperative form as expressing an affirmative proposition gave rise to in the language. In their cross-Bantu study of imperatives and prohibitives, Devos & Van Olmen (2013: 13, 47–48) note a similar phenomenon in Ngoreme’s neighbor Kuria (kuj; JE43) (see also Cammenga 2004: 293). They also report a similar pattern in Gikuyu (kik; E51) and Kamba (kam; E55), two languages spoken in proximity to the Mara languages. These authors suggest that the polar, affirmative expression can be derived from the conventionalisation of an “ironic” use of the negative imperative, an explanation that is plausible also for this feature in Ngoreme.

The bi-morphemic construction combining the negative prefix *-ta-* and the formative *ka(a)-* (derived from a verb meaning ‘can’ according to Rose 2001: 90; citing Cammenga 1994: 230) seems to be an innovation in the neighbouring North Mara subgroup which most likely spread from there to the adjacent Ngoreme speakers. Ngoreme’s two closest neighbours to the north, viz. Kuria and Simbiti, both use the potential in affirmative verb forms. They also regularly form negative imperatives with this prefix included (see Sillery 1936: 23; Walker & Overton 2018: 17). Examples (91) and (91b) below are from Simbiti (ssc; JE431).

- (91) Simbiti (North Mara, Tanzania) (Walker & Overton 2018: 17)
- a. to-ta-kaa-bhin-a
SBJ1PL-NEG-POT-dance-FV
'We shouldn't dance.'
 - b. Simbiti (North Mara, Tanzania) (Walker & Overton 2018: 17)
n-to-kaa-bhin-a
FOC-SBJ1PL-HYP-dance-FV
'We might dance.'

Notice that a similar construction is, once again, also attested in Gikuyu and Kamba. Devos & Van Olmen (2013: 27) note for these languages that "the [...] basic prohibitive strategy is used not in its regular form but in combination with the andative (or motional) prefix *ka- (cf. Meeussen 1962: 109)". They go on to suggest that this conventionalization of a bi-morphemic construction gave way to the dedicated ironic-affirmative use of the original prohibitive form (Devos & Van Olmen 2013: 47–48). It may be suspected that these "andative" prefixes are in some way reflexes of the same non-indicative marker presented here for the Northern Mara languages and Ngoreme. Thus, this chain of reanalysis of prohibitive constructions might represent a larger areal trait. More comparative research would be needed, however, in order to draw any firm conclusions on whether these formatives are cognates or not and how to account for the functional and formal (vowel length) discrepancies.

4.9 A note on word order

Ngoreme exhibits a typologically and comparatively unusual word order in compound constructions in which the main verb appears before the auxiliary. This is unusual both from a typological perspective where SVO languages are expected to exhibit auxiliary-verb order (Dryer 1992: 100, Greenberg 1966: 83) and from a comparative perspective since Bantu languages overwhelmingly exhibit auxiliary-verb order (Gibson 2019, forthcoming). This has been observed in the Bantu language Simbiti also spoken in the Mara region, neighbouring languages Gusii and Kuria, as well as the central Tanzanian languages Rangi and Mbugwe (Gibson & Marten 2019, Gibson 2019, Roth & Gibson 2019). Of interest for the current discussion is the observation that in Ngoreme, while declarative main clauses exhibit verb-auxiliary order in specific tense-aspect contexts, this word order is 'reversed' in the negative counterparts of these clauses, yielding auxiliary-verb order.

This can be seen on comparison of the examples below which show verb-auxiliary order in the affirmative in example (92) and auxiliary-verb order in its negative counterpart in example (93) (repeated from (17) and (18) above).

(92) rééro ŋ-ko-yi too-ni tarisaraamu
 today FOC-INF-go SBJ1PL-PRS.COP Dar es Salaam
 ‘Today we are going to Dar es Salaam.’ (Gibson 2019: 278)

(93) rééro tu-tá-re ko-yi tarisaraamu
 today SBJ1PL-NEG-PRS.COP INF-go Dar es Salaam
 ‘Today we are not going to Dar es Salaam.’

5 Summary

The negative constructions in Ngoreme, and their functions, are shown in Table 3, along with the relevant sections of this article. Etymologies or source meanings of non-negative elements are shown in parentheses.

As described above, Ngoreme shows interesting variation in its marking of standard negation on the verb, with a pre-initial marker (before the subject marker) *te-* and a post-initial marker (following the subject marker) *ta-*, in free variation. In subordinate clauses, however, only post-initial *ta-* may be used, contributing to a body of evidence for this being the older form. Along with the post-initial prefix, different negative verbs with inherent negative semantics occur as negators in both subordinate as well as non-declarative contexts. Similar patterns are well known across Bantu languages (see especially Güldemann 1996, 1999). Along with these developments and other diachronic phenomena, such as Jespersen’s Cycle, Ngoreme is an interesting language within the Mara subgroup, and features prominently in other present and future work on the variation and development of negation strategies across the Mara Bantu languages (e.g. Laine 2023, Bernander, Laine, et al. 2023).

HC: I know the table doesn’t look nice now, but at least all the multi-rows are where they should be. @LSP could you check this?

Acknowledgements

We are grateful to the editors of the volume for organising the original workshop at SWL and for further sparking the interest in this area of work. We are also grateful to two anonymous reviewers for their comments on earlier versions of this chapter which certainly served to strengthen the discussion and make the overall work clearer. We are grateful to the Kone Foundation for funding the

Table 3: Ngoreme negative constructions

Construction	Function	Section
<i>te</i> -SBJ-TAM-verb	Standard negation	§2.1
SBJ- <i>ta</i> -TAM-verb		
(SBJ-) <i>tiy-a/ε</i> ('stop, avoid')	Negation of dependent clauses	§2.4
	(Retrospective) prohibitive	§2.2
SBJ- <i>ta-atŷa</i> ('come')	Negation of dependent clauses	§2.4
	(Prospective) prohibitive	§2.2
SBJ- <i>ta-ka(a)</i> -verb	Negative imperative	§2.2
<i>oyutíya</i> + INF-verb ('stop, avoid')		
<i>okwángga</i> + INF-verb ('refuse')	Negation of infinitives	§2.4
<i>te</i> -SBJ-COP		
SBJ- <i>ta</i> -COP	Negation of stative predications	§2.3
<i>tere/tare</i> (COP unmarked for person)	Negation of present tense 3rd person stative predications	§2.3
SBJ- <i>ta</i> -COP=LOC	Negative existential	§2.3
<i>te</i> -SBJ- <i>γɔɔte</i> ('catch')		
SBJ- <i>ta-na</i> (COP)	Negative possessive	§2.3 §2.3
SBJ- <i>kéére</i> (PERS)	Nondum; negative answer 'not yet'	§2.6
SBJ- <i>ta-mar-a</i> ('finish')		
<i>ti</i> -SBJ- <i>mar-a</i> ('finish')	Nondum	§2.6
<i>he</i>	'never'	§3.2
	Reinforcing negation	§4.4
NEG + <i>monto</i> ('person')	'no one'	§3.2
NEG + <i>yento</i> ('thing')	'nothing'	§3.2
NEG + <i>hase</i> ('place')	'nowhere'	§3.2
<i>badala</i> (Sw.)	'instead of'	§2.4
<i>βira</i> (Sw.)	'without'	§2.4, §3.3
<i>waara</i> (Sw.)	'neither ... nor'	§4.5

Mara Project at the University of Helsinki from 2016 to 2021, including fieldwork trips during which data for this article was collected. Hannah Gibson's involvement in this study was in part supported by a Leverhulme Trust Research Project Grant (RPG-2021-248) for the Project "Grammatical variation in Swahili: contact, change and identity". We are grateful to these funders for their generous support.

We are also grateful to the Ngoreme speakers with whom we all worked over the course of the project and the research, as well as to members of the SIL "Mara team" who supported us during our visits to Musoma and the Mara region. Finally, we wish to thank Lotta Aunio for her help with tones. Any mistakes naturally remain our own.

Abbreviations

1	first person		
2	second person		
3	third person	ITV	itive
1, 2, 3, etc	noun class	LOC	locative
1a	subclass of class 1	NARR	narrative
APPL	applicative	NEG	negation
ATR	attributive	OBJ	object marker
AUG	augment	PASS	passive
CAUS	causative	PFV	perfective
CL	noun class	PL	plural
COM	comitative	POT	potential
COMP	complementizer	PRS	present
COP	copula	PRF	perfect
DEM	demonstrative	PROX	proximal
DIST	distal	PST	past
FOC	focus	REL	relativizer
FV	final vowel	SBJ	subject marker
HAB	habitual	SBJV	subjunctive
HYP	hypothetical	SG	singular
INF	infinitive	TAM	tense, aspect, mood
IPFV	imperfective		

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Negation in Ruuli

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This paper explores the different aspects of negation in the previously undescribed Great Lakes Bantu language Ruuli (JE.103, ISO: **ruc**). It first considers clausal negation. All tense-aspect combinations are negated by means of the prefix *ti-*. Except for the near future tense, the constructions are symmetric. In the negative imperative, the negation prefix *ta-* is used for various constructions which are distinguished in the positive. Thus, we classify Ruuli as a language that has a special negative imperative construction and a special negator in the negative imperative which is not used in standard negation. In non-verbal positive clauses, a range of copulas is used. The negative construction of non-verbal predication depends on the type of predication, as well as on tense-aspect. In addition to the invariable negative copula *ti*, the copulas *li* and *ta*, as well as the semi-copula *bba* are negated by means of the standard negation marker *ti-* in non-present. Furthermore, there is a dedicated negative existential *ndoo*. The article further provides an overview of non-clausal negation and negation in non-main clauses, as well as discusses negative replies, phasal polarity items, and negative indefinites.

Keywords: negation, prohibitive, non-verbal predication, Bantu.

1 Introduction

This paper deals with negation in Ruuli. It closely follows the questionnaire in Miestamo (2025) and mirrors its structure. Ruuli (ISO: **ruc**, Glottocode: **ruul1235**, also known as Ruruuli-Lunyala) is a Great Lakes Bantu language (Niger-Congo). Within Great Lakes Bantu, Ruuli belongs to the Rutara group of the West Nyanza branch (Schoenbrun 1997). Apart from Ruuli, the Rutara group includes such better-described languages as Nkore-Kiga (ISO: **cgg** and **nun**) and Haya (ISO: **hay**). Ruuli is spoken mainly in the Nakasongola and Kayunga districts of the central region of Uganda. The number of ethnic members of the community is over

230,000 (190,122 indicated to be Baruuuli, 47,699 indicated to be Banyala, [Uganda Bureau of Statistics 2016](#)). The number of Ruuli speakers is difficult to determine, we believe it to be somewhat smaller than the number of people who self-identify as Baruuuli or Banyala.

Ruuli is not an official language of Uganda and the orthography has been only recently introduced by SIL. Most speakers are multilingual: They are often fluent in Ganda, the language of the majority in the area, as well as in English, the institutional language of Uganda. Furthermore, many speakers also speak languages of the neighboring ethnic communities, these are closely related Bantu languages, such as Soga and Nyoro.

Ruuli is a typical Bantu language: The dominant constituent order is SVO. Each noun belongs to one of the 20 noun classes. The noun classes are numbered from 1 to 23 corresponding to the reconstructed Proto-Bantu noun classes ([Van de Velde 2019: 237–239](#)). Ruuli does not have the correspondences of the noun classes 19 and 21. Most nouns have both a singular and a plural form, which belong to two different classes. As in many other Bantu languages, nouns from a specific class in singular take a plural from a corresponding noun class in plural. The most common pairs (in descending order) are 1/2, 7/8, 9/10, and 3/4. The noun class prefixes on the nouns – even if they are present – are not segmented in the examples, but are indicated in the glosses, as e.g. *Kampala* ‘1.Kampala’ in (3a).

Ruuli nouns frequently carry an augment, also known as pre-prefix or initial vowel (see e.g. [Van de Velde 2019: 247–255](#)). The augment precedes the noun class prefix and has the forms *a-*, *o-*, or *e-* depending on the noun class. All augments are glossed as AUG, as e.g. the augment on *o-Kato* ‘AUG-1.Kato’ in (3a). The presence of an augment on the head noun and other elements of a noun phrase is conditioned by a combination of factors, including propositional act (e.g. question vs. assertion), syntactic context, as well as referential properties of the respective argument (cf. [Van de Velde 2019: 249](#)). Also negation interacts with the presence of the augment. This effect is discussed in §4.3.

The verbal inflectional morphology is primarily prefixing. Prefixes express such inflectional categories as negation, argument indexing, tense and aspect. Suffixes mark derivational categories, such as the causative and applicative, as well as inflectional categories, such as mood and further tense and aspect categories. The glosses of the argument indexing on the verb follow two conventions: the first and second person arguments are glossed by indicating the person and number, as in *n-ku-yab-a* (1SG.SBJ-PROG-go-FV) ‘I am going’ in (1a). The form of the third person indexes depends on the noun class and this is reflected in the glosses, which only indicate the respective class. That is, if the numeral 1 or 2 in the glosses is used in combination with the indication of number (SG or PL), it

refers to the person, when it is used without the indication of number, the gloss indicates the noun class.

Ruuli is a tonal language. The first account of its nominal and verbal tone is given in Kiriggwajjo (2022), however, other aspects of its tone, including, its interaction with negation are still being analyzed. In the examples in this article we indicate surface tone.¹ Though subsequent tone analysis might lead to the modification of some aspects of what is presented below and will definitely enrich the analysis, we are certain that most claims of this paper will remain unaffected.

The data used in the present study come from a corpus of naturalistic speech comprising over 200,000 words (Witzlack-Makarevich et al. 2021), as well as from deliberate elicitations. The corpus was collected in 2017 and 2018 in various locations in Uganda by the team of the project *A comprehensive bilingual talking Luruuli/Lunyara-English dictionary with a descriptive basic grammar for language revitalisation and enhancement of mother-tongue based education* (PI Saudah Namyalo, funded by Volkswagen Foundation).

2 Clausal negation

This section presents clausal negation constructions in Ruuli. §2.1 provides data on standard negation, i.e. negation in declarative verbal main clauses. §2.2 describes negation of non-declarative verbal main clauses. In §2.3 we discuss non-verbal clauses and how they are negated. Finally, §2.4 displays negation in non-main clauses in Ruuli.

This section does not discuss negative lexicalizations for ‘not speak’, ‘not like’, ‘not know’, ‘cannot’ or ‘not want’, as they are not attested in Ruuli. The only lexically idiosyncratic negative is the lexicalized negative existential *ndoo*-discussed in §2.3.

2.1 Standard negation

The system of negation in Ruuli is similar to what has been described for other Bantu languages, which we first outline in what follows. The morphological structure of the Bantu finite verb has been established since Meeussen (1967: 108–111) and is given in Table 1 following Güldemann (1999: 546). Across Bantu, the coding of negation is possible in three slots, viz. pre-initial, post-initial and post-final.

¹We are grateful to Anatole Kiriggwajjo for his expertise and support in marking surface tone in the examples in this article.

Table 1: Morphological slots of finite verbs in Bantu

pre-initial	initial	post-initial	pre-radical	radical	pre-final	final	post-final
TAM/NEG	SBJ	TAM/NEG	OBJ	verbal root	derivation/TAM	TAM	clause/object NEG

Many Bantu languages show a regular, syntactically conditioned distribution of pre- and post-initial negatives. These distributional restrictions are of the following type: whereas the pre-initial negation shows a strong tendency to be confined to unmarked main clauses, whereas the post-initial negation strategy is reported to rarely underlie distributional restrictions with regard to major clause types according to Güldemann (1999: 551). A functional explanation of this dichotomy is provided in Güldemann (1996: 305–308) and Güldemann (1999: 570–576).

The verb in Ruuli has an extensive tense-aspect system. At the time of writing, 25 possible tense and aspect combinations have been recognized. All tense-aspect combinations are negated by means of the prefix *ti-*, see (1) for an illustration of negation in the present progressive. The prefix is realized as *t-* before vowels, e.g. before the second person singular subject prefix *o-* in (1d).

- (1) a. Nkwabâ.
n-ku-yab-a
1SG.SBJ-PROG-go-FV
'I am going.' (elicited)
- b. Tíkwâba.
ti-n-ku-yab-a
NEG-1SG.SBJ-PROG-go-FV
'I am not going.' (elicited)
- c. Okwabâ.
o-ku-yab-a
2SG.SBJ-PROG-go-FV
'You are going.' (elicited)
- d. Tókwâba.
ti-o-ku-yab-a
NEG-2SG.SBJ-PROG-go-FV
'You are not going.' (elicited)

Except for the near future tense, the negation constructions for all tense and aspect combinations in Ruuli are symmetric in the sense of Miestamo (2005, 2017). In the negative near future, the indicative suffix *-a* – glossed as FV for final vowel,

as is common in the descriptions of Bantu languages, see e.g. Nurse (2008: 44) – is replaced by the subjunctive suffix *-e*, as in (2). Thus, the negative near future construction shows A/Cat/TAM asymmetry. This is not the case for any of the other tense and aspect combinations.

- (2) a. *Nayabá.*
 n-a-yab-a
 1SG.SBJ-FUT-go-FV
 ‘I will go (soon).’ (elicited)
- b. *Tínáyabê.*
 Ti-n-a-yab-e.
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-FUT-go-SBJV
 ‘I will not go (soon).’ (elicited)
- c. **ti-n-a-yab-a.*
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-FUT-go-FV
 Intended: ‘I will not go (soon).’ (elicited)

Ruuli makes use of the persistive prefix *kya-* to express the phasal polarity concepts STILL, NOT YET, and NO LONGER (see Kramer 2021 for a theoretical overview and Molochieva et al. 2021 for a description of phasal polarity items in Ruuli). When attached to the main verb, the prefix *kya-* expresses STILL, as in (3a). By adding the standard negator *ti-* to a verb that is marked by the persistive *kya-*, the concept NO LONGER is expressed, as in (3b). The construction denoting NOT YET is a periphrastic construction formed by the combination of a positive infinitive and the auxiliary *li*² which carries the prefix *kya-*, as in (3c). Thus, this is a semantically negative construction built without using the standard negator *ti-* and lacking a direct affirmative counterpart. The use of a periphrastic construction is typical of many Bantu languages, however, in contrast to the majority of Bantu languages with a NOT YET periphrastic construction, this construction in Ruuli does not contain a negation marker (Veselinova & Devos 2021).

There is no dedicated construction for the expression of the corresponding affirmative semantics (i.e. the phasal polarity item ALREADY) in Ruuli.³ Instead,

²The item *li* has two major functions in Ruuli. On the one hand, it serves as a copula for non-verbal predication, as in (2a) and (2b). On the other hand, it surfaces in a range of analytically built tense-aspect forms, as e.g. in (32c). The same holds for *bba* discussed in §2.3, which serves as a copula, as well as an auxiliary, as in (4).

³Note that the corresponding affirmative semantics is not expressed by the negation of the construction expressing NOT YET. The construction of a negative persistive is formally possible and has a different meaning than the positive counterpart, but was rejected by the speakers probably because of semantic issues with the English translation.

one either uses the adverb (*e*)irai with the primary meaning ‘in the past, long ago’ or the periphrastic construction with the complement-taking predicate *mala* ‘finish’ (see [Molochieva et al. 2021](#)).

- (3) a. OKátô akyâli e Kámpálâ.
 o-Kato a-ky-a-li e Kampala
 AUG-1.Kato 1SBJ-PERSIS-COP 23.LOC 1.Kampala
 ‘Kato is still in Kampala.’ (elicited)
- b. OKátô takyâlí e Kámpálâ.
 o-Kato ti-a-ky-a-li e Kampala
 AUG-1.Kato NEG-1SBJ-PERSIS-COP 23.LOC 1.Kampala
 ‘Kato is no longer in Kampala.’ (elicited)
- c. Nkyâli kwabâ.
 n-ky-a-li ku-yab-a.
 1SG.SBJ-PERSIS-AUX INF-go-FV
 ‘I have not gone yet.’ (elicited)

Some tense-aspect forms consist of a combination of an auxiliary and the main verb, e.g. the recent past progressive. In these forms, the standard negation marker *ti-* is prefixed to the main verb only. Compare the two examples in (4).⁴

- (4) a. Abbáiré áikalá mpáni obwômi bwámwé bwónâ.
 a-bba-ire a-ikal-a mpani obwomi bu-amwe bu-ona
 1SBJ-AUX-PFV 1SBJ-live-FV here 14.life 14-1.POSS 14-all
 ‘He has been living here for all his life.’ (elicited)
- b. Emábégâ aBányálâ babbairé tibátákâ
 e-mabega a-Banyala ba-bba-ire ti-ba-tak-a
 AUG-6.past AUG-2.Banyala 2SBJ-AUX-PFV NEG-2SBJ-want-FV
 kusómâ.
 kusoma
 15.education
 ‘In the past, the Banyala did not want education.’
 (II-N-KYERIMA-170218-NA-8)

⁴Note that Ruuli does not have geminate consonants, in the standard orthography <bb>, as in (4a), represents [b], whereas represents [β], see [Namyalo et al. \(2021: 27–28\)](#) for details.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

This section addresses the non-declarative mood categories of Ruuli viz. imperative, hortative and jussive.

Ruuli has two imperative constructions.⁵ The first one is used for the second person singular imperative. It is formed by the verb stem with optional extensions followed by the final vowel *-a*, as in (5a). It is the only independent verb form in Ruuli that lacks the subject prefix. The second construction is used for the second person plural imperative. It is formed by prefixing the regular second person plural subject prefix to the verb stem and suffixing the subjunctive suffix *-e*,⁶ as in (5b). This imperative construction occurs in a range of Bantu languages, see Devos & Van Olmen (2013).

- (5) a. Izâ.
 iz-a
 come-FV
 ‘Come (sg.)!’ (elicited)
- b. Mwîze.
 mu-iz-e
 2PL.SBJ-come-SBJV
 ‘You (pl.), come!’ (elicited)

Finally, imperatives with object indexing deviate from the two major patterns discussed above: They take the subjunctive suffix both with a second person singular and plural addressee, compare (6a), which contains a nominal object, with (6b–6c), which contain object indexes. The use of the final vowel *-a* in the imperative construction with object indexes is ungrammatical independent of the addressee’s grammatical number, as in (6d–6e).

- (6) a. Kûbba enkáító zaa¹mú!
 kubb-a enkaito za-amu
 polish-FV 10.shoe 10-2SG.POSS
 ‘Polish your shoes!’ (elicited)

⁵Deviations from these two patterns are observed with reduplicated verbs and lexicalized reflexive verbs.

⁶Both the form and the function of this suffix are similar to the cognate ones in closely related Great Lakes Bantu languages (Nurse & Muzale 1999), as well as in many other Bantu languages (Nurse 2008: 44, 192), for details, see Veselovsky et al. (n.d.). Final **-e* has been reconstructed for proto-Bantu (Meeussen 1967).

- b. Zikubbê!
zi-kubb-e
10OBJ-polish-SBJV
'Polish them (e.g. shoes)!' (elicited)
- c. Múzíku¹bbé!
mu-zi-kubb-e
2PL.SBJ-10OBJ-polish-SBJV
'You (pl.), polish them (e.g. shoes)!' (elicited)
- d. *zi-kubb-a
10OBJ-polish-FV
Intended: 'Polish them (e.g. shoes)!' (elicited)
- e. *mu-zi-kubb-a
2PL.SBJ-10OBJ-polish-FV
Intended: 'You (pl.), polish them (e.g. shoes)!' (elicited)

In the negative imperative, the post-initial negation marker *ta-* and the final vowel *-a* are used, as in (7a).⁷ The same construction is used with the second person plural addressee, as in (7b), as well as with verb forms with object agreement prefixes, as in (7c).

- (7) a. Otákúbbâ nkáítô zaamú!
o-ta-kubb-a nkaito za-amu
2SG.SBJ-NEG-polish-FV 10.shoe 10-2SG.POSS
'Don't polish your shoes!' (elicited)
- b. Mutákúbbâ nkáítô!
mu-ta-kubb-a nkaito
2PL.SBJ-NEG-polish-FV 10.shoe
'You (pl.), don't polish the shoes!' (elicited)
- c. Otázíkubbâ!
o-ta-zi-kubb-a
2SG.SBJ-NEG-10OBJ-polish-FV
'Don't polish them (e.g. the shoes)!' (elicited)

When the imperative construction consists of two verbs, e.g. a verb of motion followed by another verb, the second verb takes the regular second person singular or plural subject prefix and the subjunctive suffix, as in (8a). If the addressee is

⁷This is in contrast to some other Bantu languages (cf. e.g. Harjula 2004: 101), where negative imperatives always take the subjunctive *-e* instead of the final vowel.

the second person plural, as expected, also the first verb takes the subject prefix and the subjunctive suffix, as in (8b).

- (8) a. Izâ ozingululé ólúko¹sí!
 iz-a o-zingulul-e o-lukosi
 come-FV 2SG.SBJ-uncoil-SBJV AUG-11.thread
 ‘Come and uncoil the thread!’ (elicited)
- b. Mwîzé mwéróo¹ré okú músyóli!
 mu-iz-e mu-eroor-e o-ku musyoli
 2PL.SBJ-come-SBJV 2PL.SBJ-look-SBJV AUG-17.LOC 1.magician
 ‘You (pl.), come and look at the magician!’ (elicited)

The corresponding prohibitive construction is slightly different from the imperative construction with one verb. Whereas the second verb carries a subject prefix and the subjunctive suffix in the affirmative, as in (8), in the prohibitive the infinitive is used instead both with singular and plural addressees, as in (9).

- (9) a. Otáyábâ kusyómá mai¹zí.
 o-ta-yab-a ku-syom-a maizi
 2SG.SBJ-NEG-go.away-FV INF-fetch-FV 6.water
 ‘Don’t go and bring water.’ (elicited)
- b. Mutáyábâ kusyómá mai¹zí.
 Mu-ta-yab-a ku-syom-a maizi
 2PL.SBJ-NEG-go.away-FV INF-fetch-FV 6.water
 ‘You (pl.), don’t go and bring water.’ (elicited)

Taking the different types of negative imperatives into consideration, we classify Ruuli as a language that has a special negative imperative construction and a special negator (the post-initial *ta-*) in the negative imperative which is not used in standard negation. Ruuli thus qualifies as a type four language in the typology of [van der Auwera & Lejeune \(with Valentin Goussev\) \(2013\)](#), i.e. a language in which “the verbal construction of the second singular prohibitive is different from that of the second singular imperative, and the negative strategy is different from the sentential negative found in declaratives”.

Note, however, that in addition to the negative imperative construction discussed above, the standard negation form is sometimes used to express directive speech acts, as in (27b). This seems to be the case when the statement is rather an instruction than a command.

Hortative is constructed by affixing the first person plural subject agreement marker and the subjunctive suffix *-e*, which replaces the default final vowel *-a*, to the verb. In the negative hortative construction, the post-initial negation marker *ta-* and final vowel *-a* are used, as in (10a–10b). In order to form a jussive, the same construction as in hortative is used but with a non-first person plural subject, as in (10c–10d).

- (10) a. Twígále olwígê.
 tu-igal-e o-lwige
 1PL.SBJ-close-SBJV AUG-11.door
 ‘Let’s close the door.’ (elicited)
- b. Tutáígálâ ^llwígê.
 tu-ta-igal-a lwige
 1PL.SBJ-NEG-close-FV 11.door
 ‘Let’s not close the door.’ (elicited)
- c. Báígále ^lámádirísâ.
 ba-igal-e a-madirisa
 2SBJ-close-SBJV AUG-10.window
 ‘Let them close the windows.’ (elicited)
- d. Batáígálâ madirísâ.
 ba-ta-igal-a madirisa
 2SBJ-NEG-close-FV 10.window
 ‘Let them not close the windows.’ (elicited)

Polar questions in Ruuli do not have any morphological marking, as in (11a).⁸ Negative polar questions are built by using the standard negator *ti-*, as in (11b).

- (11) a. We owa musoló?
 we o-wa musolo
 2SG 2SG.SBJ-give.FV 3.tax
 ‘You, do you pay taxes?’ (elicited)
- b. We towá múso^lló?
 we ti-o-wa musolo
 2SG NEG-2SG.SBJ-give.FV 3.tax
 ‘You, don’t you pay taxes?’ (ll-N-KYERIMA-170220-FS-7a)

⁸At the moment we cannot say whether polar interrogatives have a special intonation.

2.3 Negation in non-verbal clauses

As other Bantu languages, Ruuli employs both invariable copulas — showing no agreement with the nominal subject — and inflected copulas, which agree with the subject (see Gibson et al. 2019). There are four copulas in Ruuli: *ni*, *li*, *ta*, and *ti*.⁹ Additionally, the semi-copula *bba* can be used in some of the contexts where the real copulas occur, i.e. in locational clauses and predicative possession. With proper inclusion, equative and attributive clauses, the usage of a copula is not required in the present tense with a non-pronominal subject, as in (12a). In non-present tense and with pronominal subjects predication of proper inclusion, equation and attribution requires the copula *li*, as in (12b).

- (12) a. Omúkali musómésya / má wânge / mukóoto.
 o-mukali musomesya / ma wa-ange / mu-kooto
 AUG-1.woman 1.teacher / 1.mother 1-1SG.POSS / 1-big
 ‘The woman is a teacher / my mother / big.’ (elicited)
- b. Omúkali yaali musómésya / má wânge /
 o-mukali a-a-li musomesya / ma wa-ange /
 AUG-1.woman 1SBJ-PST-COP 1.teacher / 1.mother 1-1SG.POSS /
 mukóoto.
 mu-kooto
 1-big
 ‘The woman was a teacher / my mother / big.’ (elicited)

The copulas *li*, *ta*, and the semi-copula *bba* are used in locative predication, as in (13). The speakers claim that *ta* in most cases is used interchangeably with *li*. *ta* is said to be an archaic form that is still in use in some dialects. Following Pustet (2003: 6), we classify *bba* as a semi-copula since it is not semantically empty but rather adds some meaning to the predicate phrase. The semi-copula can be translated as ‘stay, remain’ in examples of locational predication and as ‘become’ with predication of proper inclusion, equation and attribution. It inherently conveys the aspectual continuative value in the first case and ingressive value in the second, which is not the case for *li* or *ta* (cf. Hengeveld 1992: 35–36, as well as Gibson et al. 2019: 214 on Bantu specifically).

⁹Note that *li* is glossed as a copula in many examples of this section, whereas in other examples it is glossed as an auxiliary, e.g. in (3c). The differing glosses are chosen to indicate the respective function of *li* in Ruuli.

- (13) Omúsáale ¹gúli / gutâ / gubbâ ¹mú kíbira.
 o-musaale gu-li / gu-ta / gu-bba mu kibira
 AUG-3.tree 3SBJ-COP / 3SBJ-COP / 3SBJ-COP 18.LOC 7.forest
 ‘The tree is / is / stays in the forest.’ (elicited)

Bantu languages often encode predicative possession by means of a copula and the comitative preposition/conjunction *na* ‘and, with’ (Creissels 2018). In Ruuli, the most common copula *li* and the preposition *na* are currently being reanalyzed as the verb *lina* ‘have’, as in (14a), which acquired some verbal properties, such as the ability to host locative clitics. Such reanalysis of a copula followed by the comitative preposition has been observed in other Bantu languages (see Creissels 2018 for an overview).

Predicative possession can also be occasionally expressed by means of the less common copula *ta* followed by the preposition *na*, as well as the semi-copula *bba* followed by *na*, as in (14b). The speakers claim that *lina* can be used interchangeably with the copula *ta* and that the preference for one or the other is dialectal, the second option is, however, very infrequent in the corpus. There is no difference between temporary and permanent predicative possession.

- (14) a. Omúkali alina ábaana.
 o-mukali a-lin-a a-baana
 AUG-1.woman 1SBJ-have-FV AUG-2.child
 ‘The woman has children.’(elicited)
- b. Omúkali atá / abbá n’ábaana.
 o-mukali a-ta / a-bba na a-baana
 AUG-1.woman 1SBJ-COP / 1SBJ-COP COM AUG-2.child
 ‘The woman has / stays with children.’(elicited)

Existential predication is expressed by a construction with the copula *li*: The copula carries both a locative prefix and a locative enclitic of the noun classes 16, 17, 18, and 23, as in (Table 2). The prefix and the enclitic typically belong to the same locative noun class, as in (15a–15c). However, this is not obligatory, see e.g. (15d). The use of *waliwo* is by far the most common way to express existential predication in the corpus, but other combinations of the copula with a locative prefix and a locative enclitic are attested as well.

- (15) a. Wáliwo ómúzimu.
 wa-li=wo o-muzumu
 16SBJ-COP=16.LOC AUG-1.devil
 ‘There is a devil.’ (elicited)

Table 2: The locative prefixes and enclitics

class	prefix	enclitic
16	<i>wa-</i>	<i>=wo</i>
17	<i>ku-</i>	<i>=ku</i>
18	<i>mu-</i>	<i>=mu</i>
23	<i>e-</i>	<i>=yo</i>

- b. Kúlíku omwójô.
 ku-li=ku o-mwojo
 17SBJ-COP=17.LOC AUG-1.boy
 ‘There is a boy.’ (Il-R-WSKAYUNGA-170217-FS-3)
- c. Múlímu omúntû.
 mu-li=mu o-muntu
 18SBJ-COP=18.LOC AUG-1.person
 ‘There is a person.’ (elicited)
- d. Wálíwo ekíntû ekíndi.
 wa-li=yo e-kintu e-ki-ndi
 16SBJ-COP=23.LOC AUG-7.thing AUG-7-other
 ‘There is another thing.’ (elicited)

The copula *ni* is used when the subject of the clause is focused. In contrast to the other agreeing copulas, *ni* takes a subject agreement suffix (cf. Gibson et al. 2019: 219–202 for similar examples from other Bantu languages). It can stand alone in predications where no copula is required, i.e. in proper inclusion, equative and attributive clauses in present tense with a nominal subject, as in (16a). In cases where a copula is required, i.e. in all other cases, *ni* cannot replace another copula but can only be added to the clause, as in (16b–16c).

- (16) a. Omúkali níyê musómésyâ / má wânge / mukóoto.
 o-mukali ni-ye musomesya / ma wa-ange / mu-kooto
 AUG-1.woman COP-1SBJ 1.teacher / 1.mother 1-1SG.POSS / 1-big
 ‘The woman is the one who is a teacher / my mother / big.’ (elicited)
- b. Omúkali níyê alí ¹mú Kámpálâ.
 o-mukali ni-ye a-li mu Kampala
 AUG-1.woman COP-1SBJ 1SBJ-COP 18.LOC 1.Kampala
 ‘It is the woman who is in Kampala.’ (elicited)

- c. *o-mukali ni-ye mu Kampala.
 AUG-1.woman COP-1SBJ 18.LOC 1.Kampala
 Intended: 'It is the woman who is in Kampala.'

The Ruuli copula construction with the inflecting *ni* is somewhat unusual in the typology of the Bantu languages, as it is not common for a Bantu language to show an inflecting copula based on *ni* (see Gibson et al. 2019). If there is an inflecting copula, it is in most cases not based on the copula *ni*. In Ruuli, however, there is an inflecting copula which clearly is based on *ni*, as (16) illustrate. In contrast to regular verbs and inflecting copulas, it shows subject agreement via enclitics (similarly to the copula *ndi* in Swahili, see Gibson et al. 2019).

In the negation of proper inclusion, equative and attributive clauses in present tense and with a non-pronominal subject, the invariable negative copula *ti* is used, as in (17).

- (17) Ómúka^{li} tí músómésya / má wânge / mukóoto.
 o-mukali ti musomesya / ma wa-ange / mu-kooto
 AUG-1.woman NEG.COP 1.teacher / 1.mother 1-1SG.POSS / 1-big
 'The woman is not a teacher / my mother / big.' (elicited)

In non-present, as in (18a), as well as with pronominal subjects, as in (18b), however, the standard negation marker *ti-* is prefixed to the copula *li*. The same marker is prefixed to the copula *ni* when the subject of the negative statement is focused, compare (18c) with the positive clauses in (16).

- (18) a. Tikyá^{li} ^{li}kyángú.
 ti-ki-a-li ki-angu
 NEG-7SBJ-PST-COP 7-easy
 'It was not easy.' (ll-M-WSKAYUNGA-170218-FS-3)
- b. Kubbâ tolí Múgânda.
 kubba ti-o-li Muganda
 because NEG-2SG.SBJ-COP 1.Muganda
 'Because you are not a Muganda.' (elicited)
- c. Omúkali tiníyê mukóoto.
 o-mukali ti-ni-ye mu-kooto
 AUG-1.woman NEG-COP-1SBJ 1-big
 'It is not the woman who is big.' (elicited)

As for the negation of locational predication, as in (13) vs. (19), and predicative possession, as in (14) vs. (20), the copulas *li* and *ta*, as well as the semi-copula *bba* are negated by means of the standard negation marker *ti-*.

- (19) Omúsáale tigúli / tigútá / tigúbbá ¹mú kíbira.
 o-musaale ti-gu-li / ti-gu-ta / ti-gu-bba mu kibira
 AUG-3.tree NEG-3SBJ-COP / NEG-3SBJ-COP / NEG-3SBJ-COP 18.LOC 7.forest
 ‘The tree is not / is not / does not stay in the forest.’ (elicited)
- (20) Omúkali talí / tabbá / tatá n’ ábaa¹ná.
 o-mukali ti-a-li / ti-a-ta / ti-a-bba na baana
 AUG-1.woman NEG-1SBJ-COP / NEG-1SBJ-COP / NEG-1SBJ-COP COM 2.child
 ‘The woman does not have children.’ (elicited)

Existential clauses in Ruuli may be negated by means of the standard negator *ti-*. This strategy seems to be used only in non-present tense, as in (21a). It is infrequently found in the corpus and was never produced in elicitation sessions. The more common strategy includes the dedicated negative existential *ndoo* with one of the locative enclitics, which are also used in the affirmative. This construction is used for both present and non-present, as in (21b–21c). The origin of the negative existential is unclear and a similar form is not available in closely related languages. However, the usage of a special negation construction in at least one type of non-verbal predication is common cross-linguistically (Veselinova 2013, Miestamo 2017).

- (21) a. Eirá budí tíwá¹álíwó sênte.
 e-irai budi ti-wa-a-li=wo sente
 AUG-long.ago in.the.past NEG-16SBJ-PST-COP=16.LOC 9.money
 ‘Long ago there was no money.’ (elicited)
- b. Nayê ndóówô mugásô.
 naye ndoo=wo mugaso
 but NEGEX=16.LOC 3.importance
 ‘But there is no importance.’ (Il-N-KIBBAALE-170221-FS-7a)
- c. Ndóówô ¹Múnyálâ.
 ndoo=wo Munyala
 NEGEX=16.LOC 1.Munyala
 ‘There was no Munyala.’ (Il-N-WSKAYUNGA-170215-NA-2)

Ruuli non-verbal constructions is somewhat unusual from a Bantu perspective in that they employ an inflecting copula based on *ni*. The negation of non-verbal constructions is common for Bantu languages: There is a dedicated negative copula which does not show subject agreement and is formally the same as the negative copula reconstructed for Proto-Bantu (Meeussen 1967: 115). However, *ti* cannot be considered a negative counterpart to the affirmative copula *ni*, as in Proto-Bantu, because its usage is not limited to negation in combination with focus. Finally, there is a dedicated negative existential marker *ndoo* which has not been reported for related Bantu languages, though specialized seemingly unrelated forms exist in closely related languages, e.g. Ganda has the form *mpaa*, which combines with various locative enclitics to produce *mpaa=mu*, *mpaa=wo*, and *mpaa=yo* ‘there is no’ (Ashton et al. 1954, Murphy 1972: 341; see also Veselinova (2016) on other language families and cross-linguistic commonalities of new forms of negative existentials).

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In this section, we will discuss negation strategies in non-main clauses. We focus on three types of non-main clauses viz. clausal complementation in §2.4.1, relative clauses in §2.4.2, as well as temporal and conditional adverbial clauses in §2.4.3. The negation patterns found in other types of non-main clauses do not deviate from the patterns described for main clauses in §2.1.

2.4.1 Clausal complementation

Ruuli distinguishes three major types of complement clauses depending on the complement verb form: indicative complements with the final vowel suffix *-a* on the verb, subjunctive complements with the verb suffix *-e*, and infinitive complements, which are marked by the class 15 prefix *ku-* glossed here as INF. The most frequent and versatile complement type in Ruuli is infinitive complements (see Sørensen & Witzlack-Makarevich 2020 for details).

In indicative complements, the verb form of the complement clause does not differ from the verb form used in independent declarative clauses: There is an obligatory subject agreement and optional object agreement on the verb. Furthermore, the verb can occur with the same TA-categories as verbs in independent declarative clauses. When the verb in indicative complement clauses is negated, the standard pre-initial negator *ti-* is used, as in (22).

- (22) Baabóiné ↓tékyâli yà mugaso.
 ba-bon-ire ti-e-kya-li ya mugaso
 2SBJ-see-PFV NEG-9SBJ-PERSIS-COP 9.GEN 3.importance
 ‘They have seen that they are no longer of importance.’
 (II-R-NAKASONGOLA-170225-FS-1a)

The Ruuli subjunctive shows subject agreement but no marking for tense nor aspect, as in (23). As we discussed in §2.2, the Ruuli subjunctive is used in independent clauses to express jussive and hortative, as in (23a), as well as optative and modal meanings. The subjunctive can also be used in certain types of complement clauses, as in (23b) (see Sørensen & Witzlack-Makarevich 2020 and Veselovsky et al. n.d. for details). The negation of a subjunctive is morphologically possible and occur in other contexts, however, negative subjunctive complements do not occur in the corpus (apart from cases of reported discourse). Instead of negating the subjunctive complement, either the negative infinitive (see (25) below) or a periphrastic construction with the morphologically positive form of one of the inherently negative verbs, such as *leka* ‘leave, stop (doing smth.)’, as in (23c), or *lema* ‘refuse’, is used (see also Güldemann (1999) for examples of periphrastic negation in other Bantu languages).

- (23) a. Túsóme¹syé ábáana.
 tu-somesy-e a-baana
 1PL.SBJ-teach-SBJV AUG-2.child
 ‘Let us educate children.’ (II-N-BBALE-170220-FS-2)
- b. Otáká áté ó’tééwô olú¹wónkô.
 o-tak-a ate o-ta-e=wo o-lukonko
 2SG.SBJ-want-FV FOC 2SG.SBJ-put-SBJV=16.LOC AUG-11.rift
 ‘You want to cause a rift.’ (II-N-BBALE-170220-FS-2)
- c. a-a-ba-kob-a-nga ba-lek-e ku-tiin-a
 1SBJ-PST-2PL.OBJ-say-FV-HAB 2SBJ-let-SBJV INF-fear-FV
 ‘He used to tell them not to fear.’ (II-X-AniinireAiguru-nd-W-1)

In order to form the infinitive, class 15 prefix *ku-* is added to the verb stem that is followed by the final vowel *-a*. The class prefix is often preceded by the corresponding augment *o-*. The distribution of the augment is conditioned by a range of syntactic and semantic factors and its description goes beyond the scope of the present study. Suffice it to say that the augment *o-* cannot be used on the infinitive when the complement-taking predicate is negated, as in (24) (cf. Sørensen & Witzlack-Makarevich 2020).

- (24) Tintáká kú¹nywâ isárâ.
 ti-n-tak-a ku-nyw-a isara
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-like-FV INF-drink-FV 5.stale.brew
 ‘I don’t like drinking stale brew.’ (Namyalo et al. 2021: 296)

Infinitives themselves are negated by means of the post-initial negation marker *ta-*. When negated, the infinitive carries the class 14 prefix *bu-* instead of the regular class 15 prefix *ku-*. The class prefix can be preceded by the respective augment *o-*, as in (25). It is not yet clear under which circumstances the speakers prefer to negate the infinitive directly instead of negating the matrix verb. In any case, the pattern with *bu-* is used to negate infinitives also when they do not form a complement.

- (25) Ómúsaiza ayínzâ óbú¹táléétáwô mukalí.
 o-musaiza a-yinz-a o-bu-ta-leet-a=wo mukali
 AUG-1.man 1SBJ-be.able-FV AUG-14-NEG-bring-FV=16.LOC 1.wife
 ‘The man may not bring there a wife.’ (ll-M-WSKAYUNGA-170218-FS-2b)

2.4.2 Relative clauses

There are two main relativizing strategies in Ruuli. The construction used to relativize on subjects employs relative prefixes that are formally identical to the augment of the relativized noun, viz. *a-*, *e-* or *o-*, as in (26a). The construction for relativization of non-subjects includes the relative pronouns, as in (26b). With both strategies, the relative clause is negated by means of the post-initial negative prefix *ta-*, as in (26c–26d), and not with the standard negator *ti-*. Other than the use of the negator the structure of positive and negative relative clauses is identical.

- (26) a. Ekíbírâ ekíndíráine kírímu
 e-kibira e-ki-n-liraine ki-li=mu
 AUG-7.forest REL-7SBJ-1SG.OBJ-be_close_to.PFV 7SBJ-COP=18.LOC
 enkémbo.
 e-nkembo
 AUG-10.monkey
 ‘There are monkeys in the forest which is close to me.’
 (ll-M-KIBBALE-170221-FS-4b)

- b. Túlina onyónyî gwé 'béeta okísyo.
 tu-lin-a o-nyonyi gwe ba-yet-a o-kísyo
 1PL.SBJ-have-FV AUG-1.bird 1.REL 2SBJ-call-FV AUG-1.weaver.bird
 'We have a bird called weaver bird.' (Il-M-KIBBALE-170221-FS-4b)
- c. Nayê ábátaabba'ngá ná kifô nibáyába.
 naye a-ba-ta-a-bba-a-nga na kifo ni-ba-yab-a
 but REL-2SBJ-NEG-PST-COP-FV-HAB COM 7.place NARR-2SBJ-go-FV
 'But those who didn't have a place went.' (Namyalo et al. 2021: 100)
- d. Ámáani gá Káncâ gwé ó'tásóbolá
 a-maani ga kanca gwe o-ta-sobol-a
 AUG-6.power 6.GEN 1.God 1.REL 2SG.SBJ-NEG-can-FV
 kú'bónáku.
 ku-bon-a=ku
 INF-see-FV=17.LOC
 'The power of God whom you cannot see.'
 (Il-N-WSKAYUNGA-170218-FS-1a)

2.4.3 Temporal and conditional adverbial clauses

The most frequent type of adverbial clauses are temporal and conditional clauses marked by the conjunction *nga* 'while, when', as in (27a). The conjunction *nga* is always the first item in the respective adverbial clause.¹⁰ These clauses are negated by means of the pre-initial standard negator *ti-* (see § 2.1), as in (27b).

- (27) a. Nkumanyisyémú nga
 n-ku-many-is-y-e=mu nga
 1SG.SBJ-2SG.OBJ-know-CAUS-SBJV=18.LOC when
 twiréyo okú bbáíbbúli?
 tu-ire=yo o-ku bbaibbuli
 1PL.SBJ-return.PVF=23.LOC AUG-17.LOC 9.Bible
 'Should I let you know when we return to the Bible?'
 (Il-R-NAKASONGOLA-190801-FS-2)

¹⁰Ruuli has further less common types of adverbial clauses, which are currently being investigated, e.g. the concessive adverbial clause introduced by the conjunction *wade* 'though, even if, although'. For most of these clause types the same pattern of negation as the one observed with *nga*-clauses holds.

- b. Toyámbángá ^hmú kísokô nga tokwáite
 ti-o-yab-a-nga mu kisiko nga ti-o-kwaite
 NEG-2SG.SBJ-go-FV-HAB 18.LOC 7.bush while NEG-2SG.SBJ-hold.PFV
 mwígo.
 mwigo
 3.stick
 ‘Never go to the bush without a stick.’ (lit. ‘You never go to the bush while not holding a stick.’) (Namyalo et al. 2021: 62)

A separate clause often introduced by the conjunction *nga* ‘while, when’ can also be used to express the caritive meaning of *without* + *noun* and *without* + *verb*. For the meaning of *without* + *noun*, as in (28a), the predicative possession construction including the copula *li* merged with the comitative preposition *na* (see §2.3) is used in the *nga*-clause, as in (28a–28b).

- (28) a. Yaiziréyô eyô nga talínâ ^hmótóka.
 a-a-iz-ire=yô eyo nga ti-a-lin-a motoka
 1SBJ-PST-come-PFV=23.LOC 23.LOC while NEG-1SBJ-have-FV 9.car
 ‘He came there without a car.’ (lit. ‘He came there while he does not have a car.’) (Namyalo et al. 2021: 129)
- b. Yayabiré omú írwaáro nga talínâ mugendyá.
 a-a-yab-ire omu irwaliro nga ti-a-lin-a mugendya
 1SBJ-PST-go-PFV 18.LOC 5.hospital while NEG-1SBJ-have-FV 1.caretaker
 ‘He went to the hospital without a caretaker.’ (Lit. ‘He went to the hospital while he did not have a caretaker.’) (Namyalo et al. 2021: 129)
- c. Balyangá ómúku’bí ndóómû muunyú.
 ba-ly-a-nga omukubi ndoo=mu muunyu
 2SBJ-eat-FV-HAB 3.sauce NEGEX=18.LOC 3.salt
 ‘They used to eat sauce without salt.’
 (II-N-WSKAYUNGA-170216-NA-1)
- d. Baamubbweeré nga ndóówô bujúurwa.
 ba-a-mu-bbw-ere nga ndoo=wo bujuurwa
 2SBJ-PST-1OBJ-detain-PFV while NEGEX=16.LOC 14.evidence
 ‘He was imprisoned without any evidence.’ (Namyalo et al. 2021: 172)

In order to express *without* + *verb*, the *nga*-clause has the negated form of the respective verb, as in (29).

- (29) Nga taliísí'ryé nkóko yatambwirê mbe.
nga ti-a-liisirye nkoko a-a-tambwire mbe
while NEG-1SBJ-feed.PFV 10.chicken 1SBJ-PST-walk.PFV FOC
‘He just walked away without feeding the chicken.’ (lit. ‘While he had not fed the chicken, he just walked away.’) (Namyalo et al. 2021: 130)

3 Non-clausal negation

This section describes negative constructions that do not operate on clause-level, i.e. negative constructions that do not turn affirmative clauses into negative clauses but express negation on another type of constituent (Miestamo 2017: 424). The following sections are devoted to properties of negative replies to polar questions (§3.1), the construction of negative indefinites (§3.2), and negative derivation and case marking (§3.3) in Ruuli.

3.1 Negative replies

Negative replies in Ruuli are either expressed by means of a one-word negative reply *bbe* ‘no’, by the repetition of the verb of the question in its negative form or a combination of the two strategies. *Bbe* is a dedicated marker used only to give a negative reply.

In Ruuli, giving a negative reply to a negative question indicates that the speaker disagrees with the polarity but not the propositional content of the question. Thus, answering *bbe* to the negative question in (30Q) is understood as ‘it (the child) is sleeping’ (30A1). Other grammatical responses indicating disagreement are given in (30A2) and (30A3). A combination of *ee* ‘yes’ and the verb in the affirmative is not possible as an answer to a negative question, as in (30A4). *Ee* is the common word for ‘yes’ and not a polarity reversing particle, like German *doch*. The combination of *bbe* ‘no’ and the verb in the negative in the given context is not possible either as in (30A5). However, (30A4) and (30A5) are acceptable answers to a positive question.

- (30) Q. Ómwána tabbásyá?
o-mwana ti-a-bbasy-a
AUG-1.child NEG-1SBJ-sleep-FV
‘Doesn’t the child sleep?’ (elicited)

- A1. Bbé.
bbe
no
'No (the child sleeps).' (elicited)
- A2. ée, tabbásyá.
ee ti-a-bbasy-a
yes NEG-1SBJ-sleep-FV
'Yes, it does not sleep.' (elicited)
- A3. Bbé, abbásyâ.
bbe a-bbasy-a
no 1SBJ-sleep-FV
'No, it sleeps.' (elicited)
- A4. *ee a-bbasy-a
yes 1SBJ-sleep-FV
Intended: 'Yes, it sleeps.'
- A5. *bbe t-a-bbasy-a
no NEG-1SBJ-sleep-FV
Intended: 'No, it does not sleep.'

3.2 Negative indefinites

In Ruuli, the semantic equivalent of the indefinite pronouns 'something' and 'somebody' are expressed by the use of the generic nouns *kintu* '7.thing', as in (31a), and *muntu* '1.person', as in (31b).

- (31) a. Asóbólâ okú'kóláwo ekintû.
a-sobol-a o-ku-kol-a=wo e-kintu
1SBJ-can-FV AUG-INF-do-FV=16.LOC AUG-7.thing
'He can do something there.' (elicited)
- b. Omúntû n' á'kólá ékíbbi omukobakú.
o-muntu ni a-kol-a e-ki-bbi o-mu-kobaku
AUG-1.man if 1SBJ-do-FV REL-7-wrong 2SG.SBJ-1OBJ-counsel
'If someone does wrong, you counsel him.' (Namyalo et al. 2021: 412)

Haspelmath (2013) states that languages with generic-noun-based indefinites typically also have generic-noun-based negative indefinites. This is not the case in Ruuli. Instead, a negative existential construction is used to express 'nobody' and 'nothing', as in (32a–32c). Note that (32a) is actually a relative clause in which

the relativizer *e-* is dropped due to the presence of negation, as will be discussed in §4.3. More research on negative indefinites in other Bantu language is needed to assess how typical or atypical this way of expression is.

- (32) a. Ndóówô kíréma.
 ndoo=wo ki-lem-a
 NEGEX=16.LOC 7SBJ-fail-FV
 ‘Nothing fails.’ (lit. ‘There is nothing that fails.’)
 (II-R-NAKASONGOLA-170225-FS-1d)
- b. Olina kí? Ndóówô.
 o-lin-a ki ndoo=wo
 2SG.SBJ-have-FV COM what
 ‘What do you have? Nothing.’ (elicited)
- c. Ndóówô yaalí ánkúbbi’ré.
 ndoo=wo a-a-li a-n-kubb-ire
 NEGEX=16.LOC 1SBJ-PST-AUX 1SBJ-1SG.OBJ-call-PFV
 ‘Nobody has ever called me.’ (II-M-WSKAYUNGA-170218-FS-2b)

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

The preposition *nambula* ‘without’ can be compounded with nouns to indicate the lack of the compounded noun. For example, *buculeeri* ‘14.peace’ is compounded with the preposition *nambula*, which results in the adjective *nambulabuculeeri* ‘restless, insecure’, as in (33). The noun *kinambulamugaso* ‘7.useless thing’ consists of the noun *mugaso* ‘3.importance’ and the preposition *nambula* ‘without’. This noun is assigned to class 7 and receives the prefix *ki-*. This noun class also includes the generic noun *kintu* ‘7.thing’. At present, it is difficult to assess the productivity of this process, however, only a small number of negative derivations of the above type is registered in the dictionary and no examples are found in the corpus.

- (33) Ensí egínambulabuculéeri tekulaakulaná.
 e-nsi e-gi-nambulabuculeeri ti-e-kulaakulan-a
 AUG-9.country AUG-9-insecure NEG-9SBJ-develop-FV
 ‘An insecure country does not develop.’ (Namyalo et al. 2021: 81)

4 Other aspects of negation

This section discusses those aspects of negation that operate on neither clausal nor non-clausal level. We provide a short overview of the scope of negation (§4.1) and negative polarity items (§4.2) in Ruuli. §4.3 analyses the marking of noun phrases in the scope of negation. §4.4 presents the strategies used to reinforce Ruuli negation. Negation in sentence coordination is addressed in §4.5.

4.1 The scope of negation

Ruuli is a language that shows verb-dependent negative placement, i.e. it places the negator in relation to the verb instead of the element in focus. Speakers translate the sentence *I don't read the newspaper on Saturday* always as shown in (34) even when different elements, i.e. *read*, *newspaper* or *Saturday*, were put in focus. Probably, prosody is used to narrow the scope of negation to a specific constituent.

- (34) Tinsómá ámakuru okú Lwámúkáaga.
ti-n-som-a makuru o-ku Lwamukaaga
NEG-1SG.SBJ-read-FV 6.newspaper AUG-17.LOC 10.Saturday
'I don't read the newspaper on Saturday.' (elicited)

4.2 Negative polarity items

At the current state of language description, we have not been able to identify either positive or negative polarity items. The expression of phasal polarity (the concepts such as YET and ALREADY) is discussed in detail in Molochieva et al. (2021) and does not involve dedicated lexical items (see §2.1 for a brief overview).

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

In Ruuli and other Bantu languages (Miestamo 2014: 80), noun phrases can be effected by the scope of negation: When nouns are preceded by a negative verb form, the augment is typically omitted, as in (35a–35b). The absence of the augment is not only observed on objects, which regularly follow the verb, but also on adjuncts introduced e.g. by the locative noun class markers *ku* '17.LOC' and *mu* '18.LOC'.¹¹ When the negative verb is not directly followed by a noun or when it is followed by a headless noun phrase, the augment is present on either the

¹¹Class 16 locative has the invariable form *e* and does not take an augment.

noun (in the first case) or other modifiers (in the second case), as in (35c). Note that even in complement clauses with infinitive verb forms, the complementation verb never carries the augment when the matrix predicated is negated, as described in §2.4.

- (35) a. Ibbâ enkáitô!
 ibb-a e-nkaito
 steal-FV AUG-10.shoe
 ‘Steal the shoes!’ (elicited)
- b. Otáibbâ nkáitô!
 o-ta-ibb-a nkaito
 2SG.SBJ-NEG-steal-FV 10.shoe
 ‘Don’t steal the shoes!’ (elicited)
- c. Nayé lwâki titúsómesya olwáíswê?
 naye lwaki ti-tu-somesy-a o-lu-aiswe
 but why NEG-1PL.SBJ-teach-FV AUG-11-1PL.POSS
 ‘But why don’t we teach ours?’ (11-N-BBALE-170220-FS-2)

In Ruuli, the class 17 locative enclitic =*ku* can be used to express partitive meaning (see Persohn & Devos 2017 for an overview of the use of locative enclitic to express partitive in Bantu). However, in contrast to the Circum-Baltic languages (see Miestamo 2014), the partitive does not play a role in the marking of NPs in the scope of negation.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Several strategies can be used to reinforce negation. First, there are three adverbs that are used to reinforce negation: *kimwei* ‘totally, completely’, *kaakimwei* ‘thoroughly’ and *kakyarumwei* ‘totally, completely’. When used with negative constructions, they are often translated as ‘at all’. However, they express different degrees of reinforcement: *kimwei* adds the least fortification to a negative statement, as in (36b). The reinforcement is strengthened when *kaakimwei* is used, as in (36c). The strongest intensifier of negation is achieved by the use of *kakyarumwei*, as in (36d). With these adverbs, the verb takes an applicative suffix both in negative and in positive forms.

- (36) a. Tindyá mú'céere.
 ti-n-ly-a muceere
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-eat-FV 3.rice
 ‘I don’t eat rice.’ (elicited)

- b. Tindíírá kí'mwéi mucéere.
 ti-n-lya-ir-a kimwei muceere
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-eat-APPL-FV totally 3.rice
 'I don't eat rice at all.' (elicited)
- c. Tindíírá káá'kímwéi mucéere.
 ti-n-lya-ir-a kaakimwei muceere
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-eat-APPL-FV thoroughly 3.rice
 'I don't eat rice at all.' (elicited)
- d. Tindíírá ká'kyáárúmwê mucéere.
 ti-n-lya-ir-a kakyarumwei muceere.
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-eat-APPL-FV completely 3.rice
 'I don't eat rice at all.' (elicited)

Note, however, that there is no sign of bleaching of the emphatic meaning of the adverbs. Furthermore, the use of the adverbs in the negative contexts is not conventionalized and they appear more frequently with positive than with negative verb forms in the corpus and are overall relatively We can thus rule out the possibility that the adverbs in combination with the standard negation marker *ti-* form a double negation construction.

Second, similarly to what has been reported for some other Bantu languages (see [Devos & van der Auwera 2013](#), [Persohn & Devos 2017](#)), Ruuli also uses a locative enclitic to reinforce negation, e.g. the class 17 =*ku*, as in (37). Note that it is the locative enclitic with the partitive function, see §4.3.

- (37) a. iswe ti-tu-a-zwal-a-nga=ku mbugo nayenga a-baala
 we NEG-1PL.SBJ-PST-wear-FV-HAB 10.bark_cloth but AUG-2.girl
 'As for us, apart for the girls, we have never worn bark cloth.'
 (ll-N-KIDERA-170221-FS-5a)
- b. ti-n-bon-a-nga=ku e-ngerí gye
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-see-FV-HAB=17.LOC AUG-9.way 9.REL
 ba-ba-kaly-a=mu o-mu Kinyala
 2SBJ-2OBJ-handle-FV=18.LOC AUG-18.LOC 7.Banyala_culture
 'I have never seen how they are handled in the culture of the Banyala.'
 (ll-N-KYERIMA-170218-NA-4)

Finally, the regular focus marker *mbe*, as e.g. in (29), can be used immediately following negated verbs, as in (38). It can be combined with one of the adverbs discussed above, as in (38b).

- (38) a. naye a-bantu ti-ba-ki-kwaite mbe
 but AUG-2.person NEG-2SBJ-7OBJ-understand.PFV FOC
 ‘[He taught that thing,] but people did understand it.’
 (II-R-WSKAYUNGA-170217-FS-3)
- b. ti-mu-ly-a mbe kibuulo kimwei adi
 NEG-1PL.SBJ-eat-FV FOC 7.meal totally there
 ‘You just don’t eat the same meal there.’
 (II-R-NAKASONGOLA-170224-FS-3b)

4.5 Negation and coordination

Negative coordination of nominals is achieved by means of the particle *gonze* ‘not even’, as in (39a). Note that the augment is only omitted on the nominal that directly follows the negated verb, whereas the nominal following *gonze* can take the augment. Two negative clauses can be coordinated with the same marker, as in (39b). When a negative and a positive clause are coordinated, the coordinators *ate* ‘but’ or *baitu* ‘but’ can be used, as in (39c).

- (39) a. Tintáká náíbúbyái gonzé enswâ.
 ti-n-tak-a naibubyai gonze e-nswa
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-like-FV 10.spider not.even AUG-9.flying.termite
 ‘I like neither spiders nor flying termites.’ (elicited)
- b. Enkómyô tí gíkóoto gonzé ókú’bbáamu
 e-nkomyo ti gi-kooto gonze o-ku-bba=mu
 AUG-9.prison NEG 9-big not.even AUG-INF-COP=18.LOC
 abányágî.
 a-banyagi
 AUG-2.prisoner
 ‘The prison is neither big nor are there many prisoners.’ (elicited)
- c. Atáká á’bántû baitú oibá wáámwê
 a-tak-a a-bantu baitu o-iba wa-amwe
 1SBJ-like-FV AUG-2.person but AUG-1.husband 1-1POSS
 tatáká á’bántû.
 ti-a-tak-a bantu
 NEG-1SBJ-like-FV 2.person
 ‘She is friendly, but her husband is unfriendly.’ (lit. ‘She likes people,
 but her husband does not like people.’) (elicited)

5 Conclusion

We started this article by considering the clausal negation. All tense-aspect combinations are negated by means of the prefix *ti-*. Except for the near future tense, the negation constructions are symmetric with respect to segmental marking. There might well be tonal differences between the tenses, the area of Ruuli grammar still under investigation.

As discussed in §2.1, many Bantu languages show a regular, syntactically conditioned distribution of pre- and post-initial negatives: whereas the pre-initial negation tends to be used in unmarked main clauses, the post-initial negation strategy is used in more “marked” clause types, such as various subordinate clauses and prohibitives (Güldemann 1996: 261–279, 305–308, 1999: 551–564). The distribution of the pre-initial *ti-* and the post-initial *ta-* in Ruuli follows this trend. Thus, we classify Ruuli as a language that has a special negative imperative construction and a special negator in the negative imperative which is not used in standard negation (see Devos & Van Olmen 2013 on similar patterns in other Bantu languages).

In non-verbal clauses there are three copulas: *ni*, *li*, and *ta*, as well as the semi-copula *bba*, which can be used in some of the contexts where the real copulas occur, i.e. in locational clauses and predicative possession. In the negation of proper inclusion, equative and attributive clauses in the present tense, as well as with a non-pronominal subject, the invariable negative copula *ti* is used. In other non-verbal clauses, the copulas *li*, *ta*, as well as the semi-copula *bba* are negated by means of the standard negation marker *ti-*. Furthermore, there is dedicated negative existential *ndoo*, which to our knowledge has not been reported for closely-related Bantu languages.

The article further provides an overview of other aspects of clausal and non-clausal negation, as well as discusses i.a. the scope of negation, phasal polarity items, and reinforcing negation. A short summary of the different aspects of negation that are discussed in this paper is provided in Table 3.

Authors' contribution

ER wrote her MA thesis under supervision of AWM on the topic of this paper, collected additional data to supplement the available corpus, and lead the preparation of the first manuscript of this paper. All authors contributed to the first manuscript and first review round. SN and AWM revised the paper in the second review the round and finalized the article. SN served as the PI of the project within which the data collection for this article was carried out.

Table 3: Overview of negation strategies in Ruuli

Negation strategy	Functions	Examples	Section
Prefix <i>ti-</i>	Standard negation (all tenses and aspects)	(1–2)	§2.1
	Various non-main clauses	(22), (26c–26d), (27b), (28a–28b)	§2.4
	Negation of non-verbal locational predication	(19)	§2.3
	Negation of non-verbal predication of proper inclusion, equative and attributive clauses (non-present and with pronominal subjects)	(18)	§2.3
Copula <i>ti</i>	Negation of non-verbal predication of proper inclusion, equative and attributive clauses (present with non-pronominal subjects)	(17)	§2.3
Prefix <i>ta-</i>	Negative imperative, negative hortative	(7), (9–10)	§2.2
Particle <i>ndoo</i>	Negative existential	(21b–21c), (32)	§2.3
Prefix <i>bu-</i>	Negation of infinitives	(25)	§2.4.1
Prefix <i>ti-</i> + prefix <i>kya-</i> ‘PERS’	Phasal polarity	(3)	§2.1
Interjection <i>bbe</i>	Negative reply	(30A1–30A3)	§3.1

Acknowledgements

We thank the Volkswagen Foundation for funding the project ‘A comprehensive bilingual talking Ruruuli/Lunyala-English dictionary with a descriptive basic grammar for language revitalisation and enhancement of mother-tongue based education’ (2017–2019), which allowed the data collection for this article. We are grateful to the editors of this volume for the comments and suggestions in the first review round and to the two anonymous reviewers in the second review round for the many insights on negation in Bantu.

Abbreviations

1, 2, 3, etc.	noun class	INF	infinitive
1SG	first person singular	LOC	locative
2SG	second person	NARR	narrative
	singular	NEG	negative
1PL	first person plural	NEGEX	negative existential
2PL	second person	OBJ	object
	plural	PERSIS	persistive
APPL	applicative	PFV	perfective
AUG	augment	PL	plural
AUX	auxiliary	POSS	possessive
CAUS	causative	PROG	progressive
COM	comitative	PST	past
COP	copula	REL	relativizer
FV	final vowel	SBJ	subject
FOC	focus	SBJV	subjunctive
FUT	future	SG	singular
GEN	genitive	TAM	tense, aspect, mood
HAB	habitual		

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Negation in Cuwabo

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This chapter provides a descriptive analysis of the negative constructions in Cuwabo (Bantu P34, ISO: **chw**) on both clausal and non-clausal levels. Formal properties such as type, position and number of negative markers are dealt with, as well as the structural differences between affirmatives versus negatives. On the clausal level, distinction is made between declaratives, non-declaratives, verbless predication and non-main clauses. Non-clausal negation, usually poorly described in Bantu grammars, involves negative replies, negative indefinites, and negative derivation. This paper finally addresses several semantic-pragmatic aspects linked with negation. Of particular interest is the recurrent use of ironic negative constructions in order to convey emphatic affirmative statements.

Keywords: negation strategies, (non-)clausal negation, paradigmatic (a)symmetry, ironic negation, Cuwabo (Bantu).

1 The language

Cuwabo (ISO: **chw**, Glottocode: **chuw1238**), pronounced /tʃuwabo/, is an Eastern Bantu language, coded as P34 in Guthrie's (1967) referential classification. It is spoken in the Zambézia province of Mozambique by more than one million speakers (Maunze et al. 2019). The number and names of the different Cuwabo varieties differ depending on the sources. The Ethnologue (Lewis et al. 2014)¹ distinguishes five main varieties: central Cuwabo, Karungu, Mayindo, Marale, and Nyaringa, whereas Guérois (2015) excludes Marale (seemingly closer to Sena) and adds Manyawa, spoken around Lugela. The data used in this chapter belong

¹This dialectal census could not be checked in the recently-launched 18th edition of the Ethnologue because the access to any informative page have become a paid (and quite expensive!) service.

to the central variety, simply referred to as Cuwabo, and located around Quelimane, the capital city of the Zambézia province. Quelimane corresponds both traditionally and geographically to the homeland of the Cuwabo people.

Central Cuwabo has 31 consonants and a five-vowel system, which distinguishes short and long vowels. In this chapter, I mostly follow the standardized orthographic system adopted in [Ngunga & Faquir \(2011\)](#), where most graphemes are equivalent to the phonemes, except for the following: tt = /t/, dd = /d/, h = /ʔ/, dh = /ð/, ng = /ŋg/, ñg = /ŋ/, and lr = /ɾ/. As conventionally practiced in Bantu studies, the graphemes j and y stand for the palatal stop /ɟ/ and the palatal approximant /j/, respectively. For each example provided in this chapter, the first tier presents a broad phonetic representation written in phonetic symbols. It includes surface morphophonological processes, including resyllabification processes and tonal processes of doubling and spreading. The second tier, written in graphemes, provides the morphological segmentation of each utterance. On this tier, only the underlying High tones are represented.

Cuwabo is a tone language with a binary distinction between High-toned moras (indicated with an acute accent on the segment) and toneless moras (zero-marked). The tone-bearing unit is the mora. Tones are both lexically and grammatically significant. There are two tone rules. The most frequent rule is High-Tone doubling, which consists of copying an underlying H only onto the next mora to the right, both word-internally and across word boundaries. Plateauing whereby at least two toneless moras become H between two underlying H tones word-internally, is the second tone rule.

As most Bantu languages,² Cuwabo has a predominantly head-marking morphology characterized by an extensive system of noun class agreement numbered from 1 to 18. Among them, class 15 prefix *o-* serves to form infinitives. In addition to noun class prefixes, Cuwabo nouns carry an “augment tone” whose presence or absence is mostly conditioned by pragmatic factors, such as referentiality. This issue is discussed in §4.3.

Cuwabo verbal morphology is highly agglutinative. Its verbal complex consists of a string of grammatical morphemes that appear in a strict order organized around a stem nucleus, which is in turn built upon a verbal root optionally hosting one or several derivational suffixes. The elements that appear in these verbal slots convey a range of grammatical information, as can be seen on examination of Table 1. With regard to polarity, three slots are of importance in Cuwabo: the pre-initial slot, the post-initial slot and the final slot.

²Among sources defining what typical Bantu languages are, the reader is referred to general works such as [Williamson & Blench 2000: 11–42](#), [Nurse & Philippson \(2003\)](#) and [Van de Velde et al. \(2019\)](#).

Table 1: The morphological structure of the Cuwabo verb (based on Güldemann's (1999) terminology)

slots	functions	negators
pre-initial	TAM, negation	<i>ka-</i>
initial	subject	
post-initial	TAM, AM, negation	<i>hi-</i> / <i>náá-</i>
pre-radical	object, reflexive	
radical	verb root	
pre-final	derivation, TA	
final	TAM, negation	<i>-i</i>
post-final	plural imperative suffix, locative, comitative/instrumental, restrictive, intensive, subject pronouns in relatives	

Cuwabo negation is mostly preverbal. In this, it conforms to the universal preference to place negation before the verb stem (Dahl 1979; Dryer 1988, 2011). Pre-stem negative prefixation is the pattern standardly found across Bantu languages, most likely inherited from Proto-Bantu (Westphal 1958; Kamba Muzenga 1981; Güldemann 1999). See §4.6.5 for diachronic observations.

Variation in Bantu negation strategies has been the subject of a number of previous studies (see, e.g., Westphal 1958; Kamba Muzenga 1981; Contini-Morava 1989; Güldemann 1999; Devos & van der Auwera 2013; Guérois et al. *Forthcoming*, for comparative studies). This chapter aims to provide an exhaustive and typologically-informed picture of the different negative constructions attested in Cuwabo, on both clausal and non-clausal levels.

The outline of this chapter follows editorial guidelines: §2 explores negation on the clausal level, covering both verbal and non-verbal predication; §3 examines non-clausal negation, i.e. negative items or constructions such as negative replies, negative indefinites, and negative derivation; §4 describes other aspects of negation, including the scope of negation, negative polarity, the pragmatics and marking of NPs under the scope of negation, negation reinforcers, negative coordinators, negative transport, metalinguistic negation, ironic negation and diachronic considerations. A summary of the chapter is provided in §5.

Most of the data presented in this paper come from the author's fieldwork, conducted around Quelimane between 2011 and 2013. For each example, the type of source (story, conversation, image, elicitation) is provided between square brack-

ets. The reader is referred to Guérois (2015, 2019) for a full-fledged description of the language.

2 Clausal negation

This section explores clausal negation constructions in Cuwabo. Following the editors' questionnaire, standard negation, i.e. negation in declarative main clauses, is first described in §2.1, as opposed to negation in non-declarative main clauses, which is covered in §2.2. §2.3 and §2.4 are concerned with negation in non-verbal clauses and negation in non-main clauses, respectively. No discussion of negative lexicalizations (Veselinova 2013a) is provided as they were not observed on the basis of my corpus.

2.1 Standard negation

Negation in declarative verbal main clauses is invariably marked by the pre-initial negator *ka-*. This is seen with the past imperfective *kaálóga* and the past perfective *kaaziwíl* in (1) and the hypothetical *kamugaabélélle* in (2).³

HC: @LSP: if this first line is not in italics, the author wishes for [xxx] (because it is phonetic notation)

- (1) mwáán' óólle kaálóga. kaaziwíl' óologā
 mú-aná ólle ka-á-log-a ka-a-ziw-íle
 1-child 1.DEM.DIST NEG.SBJ.1-PST.IPFV-speak-FV NEG.SBJ.1-PST-know-PFV
 o-log-á
 HTD.15-speak-FV
 'That child did not speak. She was not able to speak.' [Mute.Girl.Story]
- (2) koʔikálagá kođó, kamugaabélélle
 ka-o-hí-kal-ag-á koddo ka-mu-gaa-abélel-ile
 CNTF-15-NEG-be-HAB-FV HTD.9a.war NEG-SBJ.2PL-HYP-swim-PFV
 'If it was not on account of war, you would not (be able to) swim.'
 [Elicitation]

All declarative TA categories are listed in Table 2, both in their affirmative and negative shapes. Whenever possible, a cross-referenced example is also indicated in parentheses.

³Subject prefixes of 3rd person singular and plural are equivalent to classes 1 and 2, respectively, hence they are glossed SBJ.1 and SBJ.2. Speech act participants are, in turn, glossed SBJ.1SG/SBJ.2SG/SBJ.1PL/SBJ.2PL.

Table 2: Declarative TA categories

label	Affirmative	Negative
progressive present 'we are Ving'	SBJ- <i>ni-o</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [DJ] (4b)	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>ni-o</i> -VB- <i>a</i> (57)
(hab.) present 'we V'	SBJ- <i>ni</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [CJ] (3)	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>ni</i> -VB- <i>a</i> (38a)
perfective/perfect 'we (have) Ved'	SBJ- <i>hi</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [DJ] (4a) SBJ-VB- <i>ile</i> [CJ]	<i>ka</i> -SBJ-VB- <i>ile</i> (24b)
past perfective 'we (had) Ved'	SBJ- <i>á</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [DJ] SBJ- <i>a</i> -VB- <i>ile</i> [CJ]	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>a</i> -VB- <i>ile</i> (1)
past imperfective 'we Ved/were Ving'	SBJ- <i>a-ni</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [DJ] SBJ- <i>á</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [CJ]	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>á</i> -VB- <i>a</i> (1)
future 'we will V'	SBJ- <i>naa-ilá-o</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [DJ] SBJ- <i>náa</i> -VB- <i>e</i> [CJ]	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>náa</i> -VB- <i>e</i> (40)
future imperfective 'we will be Ving'	SBJ- <i>gá-ni</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [DJ] SBJ- <i>gá</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [CJ]	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>gá</i> -VB- <i>a</i>
hypothetical 'we would have Ved'	SBJ- <i>gaa-hí</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [DJ] SBJ- <i>gaa</i> -VB- <i>ile</i> [CJ]	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>gaa</i> -VB- <i>ile</i> (2)
past progressive 'we were Ving'	SBJ- <i>á</i> -AUX <i>o</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>á</i> -AUX <i>o</i> -VB- <i>a</i> (5)
counter-expectational 'we did V'	SBJ-AUX <i>o</i> -VB- <i>a</i> (6)	<i>ka</i> -SBJ-AUX <i>o</i> -VB- <i>a</i> (6)
'not yet'		<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>ná</i> -VB- <i>a</i> (7)

A common typological criterion when dealing with verbal negation is symmetry between affirmative and negative constructions. According to Miestamo (2007: 556), “symmetric negative constructions do not differ from non-negatives in any other way than by the presence of the negative marker(s)”. This is partly the case in Cuwabo. Looking more closely at the affirmative column in Table 2, most declarative TA categories are subdivided into a pair of complementary conjugations, known since Meeussen (1959) as “conjoint” (CJ) and “disjoint” (DJ).⁴ This CJ/DJ alternation is conditioned by information structure. CJ verb forms are used to introduce a focused element, which necessarily occupies the Immediate-After-Verb position and, depending on its grammatical category, loses its (first) underlying High tone, a process glossed as HTD for High Tone Deletion (see §4.3 for more details). This is shown in (3) with the noun *mulobwana* ‘man’ (underlyingly *múlobwana*), which loses its underlying H after the conjoint verb *ddimfúná*

⁴Such a distinction is observed mostly in Eastern and Southern Bantu (see van der *van der Wal & Hyman* 2017).

(see (58a) for another example). In disjoint verb constructions, no special relationship between the verb and the following constituent applies (4a). This means that, unlike conjoint forms, a disjoint verb can stand on its own, as in (4b).

- (3) supeéyó supeéyo, míyó dīṃfúná mulobwana
 supeéyo supeéyo míyo ddi-ní-fun-a
 HTD.9a.mirror HTD.9a.mirror PRO1SG SBJ.1SG-IPFV.CJ-want-FV
 mu-lobwana
 HTD.1-man
 ‘Mirror, mirror, I want a man.’ [Maria.Story]
- (4) a. múlóbwan’ oókosá: masárápɪw’ aábále
 mú-lobwana o-hí-kos-á ma-sárapitto ábale
 1-man SBJ.1-PFV.DJ-do-FV 6-magic 6.DEM.DIST
 ‘The man made that magic.’ [Mbílri.Story]
- b. ánófúlá
 á-ni-ó-ful-á
 SBJ.2-IPFV.DJ-15-wash-FV
 ‘They are washing.’ [Ddoolrinddo.Story]

Negative TAs in Cuwabo do not have the CJ/DJ alternation. Instead, only one form, based on the conjoint morphology and marked by the pre-initial negative marker *ka-*, is used to obtain negative polarity. This means that both CJ/DJ affirmative forms are negated by means of a single negative form. As a result, constructional negation symmetry only applies with conjoint affirmatives: negative verb forms are formally equivalent to the affirmative conjoint verb forms.⁵ The disjoint morphology is lost when negation takes place. The only exception is the progressive present form *ka-sbj-ni-o-vb-a* ‘we are not Ving’, which functions as the negative counterpart of the disjoint form *sbj-ni-o-vb-a* ‘we are Ving’ (first line in Table 2). This is most likely due to the aspectual difference between the disjoint present and conjoint present in Cuwabo: whereas the disjoint form is progressive, the conjoint form *sbj-ni-vb-a* is used to refer to a general or even habitual present. In this sense, the CJ/DJ alternation for present is further specified with aspectual distinctions as compared with the six other TAs displaying the alternation.

⁵If the symmetry invariably holds on the segmental level, in certain TAMs, tonal differences between affirmatives and negatives occur on the supra-segmental level. See Kisseberth & Guérois (2014) for more details on melodic High tones in Cuwabo verbs.

The absence of CJ/DJ alternation in negatives underlies a paradigmatic asymmetry between affirmative and negative declarative TA categories. More precisely, this case of syncretism where two (or more) affirmative paradigms share a common negative counterpart is referred to by Miestamo (2005) as “paradigmatic A/Cat asymmetry”.

The last three declarative TA categories in Table 2 do not have the CJ/DJ alternation. Both past progressive (5) and counter-expectational⁶ (6), built upon the auxiliary *ila* (grammaticalized from *ila* ‘say/do’), show symmetry with their affirmative equivalent.

- (5) íyééné kaál’ uuṭolon’ úkó kéél’ oofulá?
 íyeéne ka-á-li o-ttolo=ni óko
 PRO3SG NEG.SBJ.1-PST.IPFV-be HTD.17-well=LOC 17.DEM.REF
 ka-á-ila o-ful-á
 NEG.SBJ.1-PST.IPFV-AUX HTD.15-wash-FV
 ‘Wasn’t she there at the well, wasn’t she washing?’ [Ddoolrinddo.Story]
- (6) A: múkwáníya óyéví?áwa ḏaáwo?
 mú-kwaní=ya ó-yev-ih-a=wa dhaáwo
 3-greenery=DEF 15-be.small-CAUS-FV=DEF15 like.that.II
 ‘(Why) so little greenery?’
 B: kaḏjíl’ óogula, ḏjíl’ óóvá?íwa
 ka-ddi-ila o-gul-á ddi-lá ó-vah-íw-a
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-CNTE HTD.15-buy-FV SBJ.1SG-CNTE 15-give-PASS-FV
 ‘I did not buy it, I was given it.’ [Elicitation]

As for ‘not yet’, which combines *ka-* with the counter-expectational prefix *ná-* as in (7), it has no affirmative equivalent. There is no dedicated morpheme to express the concept ‘already’ in the language, although perfective verb forms may convey such meaning (Guérois 2021). Notably, the counter-expectational prefix *ná-* is also attested with the post-initial negator *hi-* in non-main clauses to express ‘before Ving’. Such polysemy is common for *nondum* constructions (Veselinova et al. 2024). This is further discussed in §2.4.2.

⁶Counter-expectational, commonly attested in narrative texts, is used to express unexpected or unplanned events, in both affirmative and negative polarities. It is aspectually close to the perfective, since the event is seen as a whole, but unlike the perfective, the counter-expectational involves a surprising effect.

- (7) oṃmála wóóda. só kanákwa
 o-hi-mál-a ó-odd-á só **ka-ná-kw-a**
 SBJ.1-PFV.DJ-finish-FV 15-be.thin-FV but NEG.SBJ.1-CNTE-die-FV
 ‘She has turned thin, but she had not died yet.’ [Ddoolrinddo.Story]

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

This section is concerned with negation in non-declaratives. Negation in interrogative sentences does not differ from negation in other clause types (see, e.g., examples (5), (52), (57), (67)). It is worth noting that question tags are expressed by means of the non-verbal negator *kahíye* ~ *kahíyo* discussed at length in §3.3 below. An example is given in (8) with the variant *kahíyo*. This pro-sentential use of negative existential is cross-linguistically very common (cf. Veselinova 2013b).

- (8) Aíssa ootúkúla mpíka, kaáyo?
 Aíssa o-hi-ttúkúla-a mu-píka **kahíyo**
 Aíssa SBJ.1-PFV.DJ-take-FV 3-bucket NVB.NEG
 ‘Aíssa took the bucket, didn’t she?’ [Elicitation]

The rest of this section is concerned with imperative and other modality-linked notions such as hortative, jussive, optative and desiderative.

Commands in the second person singular or plural are expressed by means of the pre-initial imperative prefix *ka-*, i.e. a grammaticalized form of the associated motion marker *ka-* (Guérois et al. 2021).⁷ This is illustrated in (9). As in many Bantu languages (Nurse 2008: 192), there is no formal negative counterpart to the imperative in Cuwabo. The only strategy to express negative commands or prohibitives is the use of the negative subjunctive. As in most Bantu languages, the subjunctive in Cuwabo is marked by the final vowel *-e* (Nurse 2008: 261). Remarkably, there are three different ways of negating subjunctives in Cuwabo, two of which are attested in non-declaratives (see §2.4.1 for a discussion of the third negator). The first strategy involves the pre-initial negator *ka-*, the same as used in standard negation. This is illustrated in (10), where *ka-* is merged with the second person singular subject prefix *o-*, resulting in *ku-*. The second strategy consists in prefixing the post-initial negator *náa-*, as in (11) for second person plural or (13a) for second person singular. According to my main consultant, these two strategies are interchangeable. Research through my corpus seems to confirm their occurring in similar contexts.

⁷A second form of imperative, consisting of a bare stem (e.g. *gulá!* ‘buy!’ < *ógulá* ‘to buy’), also exists in Cuwabo, but has largely fallen into disuse.

- (9) kaḏówá vatákûlu!
 ka-dhów-a va-tákulu
 IMP-go-FV 16-9a.home
 ‘Go (sg) home!’ [Ddoolrinddo.Story]
- (10) kulime mund’ áwó muzógwé aʔirúbwîle
 ku-lim-e mú-ndda ó-awo mu-zógwe
 NEG.SBJ.2SG-cultivate-SBJV 3-field AGR3-POSS2SG 1-rain
 a-hi-rúbw-ile
 SBJ.1-NEG-rain-PFV.SEQ
 ‘Do (sg) not farm your field if it has not rained.’ [Elicitation]
- (11) kááʔiyeṇna áányā. munééye!⁸
 ká-a-ttiy-e=ní=na á-ányá mu-náa-iy-e
 IMP-OBJ2-leave-FV=PL.ADDR=COM 2-owner SBJ.2PL-NEG-steal-SBJV
 ‘Leave (2pl) it for/with the owners. Do not steal!’ [Elicitation]

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The lack of paradigmatic symmetry between (positive) imperatives and prohibitives is commonly observed cross-linguistically (van der Auwera 2006).

Other non-declarative verbal clauses in Cuwabo are all built on the subjunctive morphology, in both affirmative and negative polarities. Apart from its recurrent use in complement clauses (see §2.4.1), the subjunctive found in non-declaratives may be used as a suggestion or mild imperative (12a), an optative/desiderative (12b), or a hortative/jussive (12c). The negative equivalents are provided in (13).

- (12) a. muróme ókúpút’ óotákúlúwa, mwiinávólowa mucélánímwa
 mu-róm-e ó-kupútt-a o-tákulúwa
 SBJ.2PL-start-SBJV 15-scrub-FV 17-9a.courtyard
 mu-hi-ná-volow-a mu-céla=ní=mwa
 SBJ.2PL-NEG-CNTE-enter-FV 18-well=LOC=DEF18
 ‘(You should) Start scrubbing the courtyard before getting into the well.’ [Elicitation]
- b. ḑikáló w’ oomáríʔa

⁸Note in (11) that when an object prefix is added to an affirmative imperative verb form, as in *kááʔiyeṇna*, the final vowel *-a* changes to *-e*. This is a regular change in Eastern Bantu (also see Ruppert, Namyalo & Witzlack-Makarevich this volume).

ddi-kál-e o-a o-márih-a
 SBJ.1SG-be-SBJV AGR1-CONN 15-finish-FV
 ‘May I be the last one.’ [Mbílri.Story]

- c. ṇḍów’ óóṭólóni ṇḍówé náfûle
 ni-dhów-e o-ttólo=ni ni-dhów-e ni-á-ful-e
 SBJ.1PL-go-SBJV 17-well=LOC SBJ.1PL-go-SBJV SBJ.1PL-AMOT-wash-SBJV
 ‘Let’s go to the well, let’s go and wash (do the laundry).’
 [Ddoolrinddo.Story]

- (13) a. onáávégé wiíko, ookálá anyákôko
 o-náa-veg-e o-íko o-hi-kál-a a-nyákoko
 SBJ.2SG-NEG-play-SBJV 17-river SBJ.17-PFV.DJ-be-FV 2-crocodile
 ‘You should not play at the river, there are crocodiles.’ [Elicitation]
- b. kaḍikale w’ oomárí?a
 ka-ddi-kal-e o-a o-márih-a
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-be-SBJV AGR1-CONN 15-finish-FV
 ‘May I not be the last one.’ [Elicitation]
- c. kaniḍow’ ooṭólóni
 ka-ni-dhow-e o-ttólo=ni
 NEG-SBJ.1PL-go-SBJV 17-well=LOC
 ‘Let’s not go to the well.’ [Elicitation]

The pre-initial *ka-* is also used in non-declaratives to express incapacity, as in (14).

- (14) ódó ṇládá kagaye!
 óddo ni-láda ka-gay-e
 1.DEM.REF 5-hand NEG.SBJ.1-balance-SBJV
 ‘That Mr. Hand cannot balance itself!’ [Body.Story]

The morphological formulae of both affirmative and negative non-declarative mood categories are summarized in Table 3.

As explained above, negating the imperative involves subjunctive morphology. The lack of inherent negative construction makes imperative paradigmatically asymmetrical. In contrast, both negative subjunctives are symmetric to their affirmative equivalent on the segmental level: either the pre-initial negator *ka-* or the post-initial *náa-* is added. However, tone patterns differ on each of these constructions. Affirmative subjunctives have an underlying H on the first mora

Table 3: Non-declarative mood categories

label	affirmative	negative
imperative	<i>ka</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	✗
subjunctive	SBJ-VB- <i>e</i>	<i>ka</i> -SBJ-VB- <i>e</i> SBJ- <i>náa</i> -VB- <i>e</i>

of the stem in case of bimoraic stems (as in (12)), or on the second mora with trimoraic stems. *ka*- negative subjunctives are all low, whereas *náa*- negative subjunctives are subjected to tone plateauing (if no further prosodic constraints apply, see Guérois 2019: 739) starting from the negator (e.g. *munáávégé* in (13a)).

In terms of distribution, *ka*- is restricted to main clauses only, whereas *náa*- may be used in both main clauses, as shown in this section, and complement clauses (see §2.4.1), but with a very limited distribution, as it is restricted to the subjunctive mood.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Cuwabo has two distinct non-verbal negators. The first, *kahíye* (with *kahíyo* as a free variant), is invariable and translated in English as ‘(there/it) is not’. Apart from the initial negative marker *ka*-, the rest of the underlying morphological structure is difficult to identify synchronically. The segment *hi*- might represent the perfect(ive) marker, commonly used in Cuwabo to express a result state. The origin of the final segment *yo* ~ *ye* is unknown. Another puzzle is that no verb root is discernible. Since they are not morphologically transparent, these forms are glossed ‘NVB.NEG’. As several examples in this section show, *kahíye*~*kahíyo* may also be produced on the surface as *kaáye* and *kaáyo*, respectively, whereby *hí*- totally assimilates with the preceding low vowel.

The second non-verbal negator derives from *kahíye*~*kahíyo*, but inflects for subject marking and also contains one of the three locative clitics. The resulting shape is as follows: *ka*-SBJ-*hí*=LOC. This negator is limited to the context of locative-existential predication, hence it is glossed ‘NEGEX’.

An alternative strategy to these existential negators is the copula verb *li* ‘be’ used in its negative form.⁹ As shown throughout this section, its use is broad and it often comes as a free alternative to one of the two existential negators.

⁹In many Bantu languages, *li* has a suppletive negative form *si* ‘not to be’. This is not the case in Cuwabo.

The copula verb *li* ‘be’, reconstructed to Proto-Bantu as *di, is highly defective: it does not take the default final vowel and only occurs in (zero-marked) present and *a-* past.

Affirmative non-verbal predication is in turn expressed in three different ways. The first, restricted to class 1/2 third-person subjects, involves the deletion of the augment tone on the predicate. For instance, in *Maríyá muyaná* ‘Marie is a woman’, the citation form *múyaná* (HØH) surfaces as *muyaná* (ØØH). High-Tone Deletion triggers a predicative interpretation. The second strategy consists in using class-inflected copulas, such as class 1 *ddi*, class 2 *ba*, class 3 *bu*, etc., grammaticalized from demonstrative pronouns (Guérois 2019: 762; Gibson et al. 2019).¹⁰ Finally, the copula verb *li* ‘be’ appears as the third recurrent strategy. Multiple examples for each strategy are provided along the section. The reader is also referred to Guérois (Forthcoming) for a detailed study of non-verbal predication in Cuwabo.

This section explores negation in non-verbal predicates along their different subtypes, i.e. equational (§2.3.1), ascriptive (§2.3.2), locative-existential (§2.3.3) and possessive (§2.3.4).

2.3.1 Equational predication

Equational predicates establish a relation of identity between two referential NPs. This is commonly expressed in Cuwabo by means of the copula verb *li* ‘be’, as seen in (15). In (15), speaker A speaks in the first person singular and asserts she is Maria. Speaker B denies it. Two negation strategies are observed: the negated copula verb *kulí* (where the negative marker *ka-* is merged with the second singular subject prefix *o-*) is used in a context of contrastive negation, while the non-verbal negator *kahíye~kahíyo* (henceforth *kahíye* for simplicity) is used in a non-focus context. It remains to be checked whether the selection of negation strategy is necessarily determined by information structure. Notably, *kahíye* is located between the subject and the predicative complement, leading to constructions that can literally be interpreted as ‘X, it is not Y’.

- (15) A: míyó d̥ili Maríya
 míyo d̥di-li Maríya
 PRO1SG SBJ.1SG-be Maria
 ‘I am Maria.’

¹⁰More specifically, the copula is formally identical to the proximate demonstrative stems (with the exception of the class 1 copula form *ddi*).

- B: wéyó kulí Máriya, kúzivale, Maríyá káyí' wéyo ¹¹
 wéyo **ku-lí** M. kú-zival-e M. **kahíye** wéyo
 PRO2SG NEG.SBJ.2SG-be M. NEG.SBJ.2SG-lie-SBJV M. NVB.NEG PRO2SG
 'You are not Maria, do not lie, Maria (it) is not you.' [Maria.Story]

Affirmative equational predication is also expressed by means of class-inflected copulas, such as class 1 *ddi* in (16), or by the loss of the augment tone through High-Tone Deletion, as in (17) with *rapaási* 'is a boy' (versus *rápaási* in citation form). In this example, which constitutes a typical way to open stories in Cuwabo, the predicate *rapaási* expresses a contrastive focus as opposed to the specific but indefinite referent *óddo* 'that one' introduced (again) by the existential negator *kaáye* (where *kaáye* is a reduced form of *kahíye*).

- (16) oṅlógá ði míyo Férnáânda
 o-ní-log-á **ddi** míyo Férnáânda
 AGR1-IPFV-speak-FV.REL COP1 PRO1SG Fernanda
 'The one speaking is me Fernanda.' [Ddingí.Story]
- (17) weéřlé kááy' ðo, weéřlé rapaási...
 o-ér-ilé **kaáye** óddo o-ér-ilé
 AGR1-do/say-PFV.REL NVB.NEG 1.DEM.REF AGR1-do/say-PFV.REL
rapaási
 HTD.1a.boy
 'There once was a boy...' (lit. 'the one who did/said (it) is not that one, the one who did/said is a boy') [Ddoolrinddo.Story]

2.3.2 Ascriptive predication

Predicates that ascribe a property to an individual or an entity are known as 'ascriptive' (Hengeveld 1990, 1992). This property can be a character trait, a physical or intrinsic property of an individual or an entity.¹² Adjective as a grammatical category is almost non-existent in Cuwabo, as typical for many Bantu languages. Only a handful of adjectival items are attested in the language. Instead, the semantic content of ascriptive predication is conveyed by an infinitive verb or by a noun in adnominal possessor function introduced by the genitive linker *a* (aka

¹¹The segment *hi* in *kahíye* in example (15) is most frequently heard with the palatal approximant/glide (here noted as /y/) rather than with the glottal stop /ʔ/.

¹²Result states, which ensue from a prior event giving rise to them, as well as certain physical properties (e.g. *ókóddéla* 'be beautiful') are in turn expressed by perfect(ive)-inflected verbs (see Guérois 2015: 363–365).

“connective” in Bantu studies, cf. Van de Velde 2013), itself preceded by a class-inflected copula.¹³ This is illustrated in the examples (18) to (20).

- (18) míyó ɖa mwaaná
 míyo **ɖɖi-a** **mu-aná**
 PRO1SG COP1-CONN HTD.1-child
 ‘I am a child.’ [Elicitation]
- (19) músóŋo wa mwááná óɖu b’ oolápa
 mú-solro o-a mú-aná óɖdu **bu-a** **o-láp-a**
 3-head AGR3-CONN 1-child 1.DEM.PROX COP3-CONN 15-be.big-FV
 ‘The head of this child is big.’ [Elicitation]
- (20) bíríŋkw’ iísí sa wóóru
 bíríŋku ési **si-a** **ó-oru**
 10a.earring 10.DEM.PROX COP10-CONN 11-gold
 ‘These earrings are (made) of gold.’ [Elicitation]

As already said above, class 1/2 third-person subjects do not need a copula item between the subject and the predicative complement. However, the latter is necessarily subjected to High-Tone Deletion, as seen in both (21) with the adjective *munddimúwa*, and (22) with the noun *namapuja*.¹⁴

- (21) Mosambíki mundimúwa
 Mosambíki **mu-nddimúwa**
 1a.Mozambique HTD.AGR1-big
 ‘Mozambique is big.’ [Elicitation]
- (22) namárogoló namapuja
 namárogolo **namapuja**
 1a.hare HTD.1a.joker
 ‘The hare is a joker.’ [Ddingí.Story]

Similarly to equational predicates, ascriptive predicates are negated by using the non-verbal negator *kahíye* located between the subject and the predicative complement. This is shown in (24a), (25), (26) and (27). These constructions show

¹³Notably, in this construction, the connective lacks the expected agreement marker co-referring to the head noun, as in e.g. (19) with *wa* referring to class 3 *músolro* ‘head’. Such absence, which might be viewed as an instance of haplology, points to a grammaticalization process of this construction. A comparative analysis would be needed to reach some historical explanation.

how the use of non-verbal negators has extended into predicative copular constructions. The presence of the copula-connective *dda* in (23a), leading to an existential-copular sequence, is not clear. Such a sequence, however, seems to be restricted to speech act participants. Again, the negated copula verb *li* can be used as an alternative. This is shown in (23b), (26b) and (27b). Interestingly, my main consultant interprets (26a) and (26b) differently. More specifically, (26b) may be conceived as the denial of a previous statement asserting the country's greatness. It could then easily be completed by 'it is weak'. In contrast, the same consultant does not denote any difference in meaning in the pairs of sentences provided in (23) and (27), and if the use of the copula verb *li* in both (23b) and (27b) may originally be associated to contrastive negation, its synchronic use does not seem to be restricted to specific pragmatic contexts. Conversely, it may be that negative-inflected *li* is specializing as a contrastive negator due to the pervasiveness of the non-verbal negator *kahiye* in copular constructions. Another distinction between these paired sentences is the presence versus absence of the augment tone: HTD only occurs on the predicative complement that follows negative-inflected *li*. Finally, when the modifier is a verb, the latter may also receive a result state reading through perfect(ive) inflection (24b). Here too, there is no difference in meaning between the two constructions.

- (23) a. míyó kayíyé ɖa mwááná
 míyo **kahiye** **dda**-a mú-aná
 PRO1SG NVB.NEG COP1-CONN 1-child
 'I am not a child.'
- b. míyó kaɖilí mwaaná
 míyo **ka-ddi-lí** mu-aná
 PRO1SG NEG-SBJ.1SG-be HTD.1-child
 'I am not a child.' [Elicitation]
- (24) a. músóro wa mwááná óɖu kayiy' oolápa
 mú-solro o-a mú-aná óɖdu **kahiye** o-láp-a
 3-head AGR3-CONN 1-child 1.DEM.PROX NVB.NEG 15-be.big-FV
 'The head of this child (it) is not big.' [Elicitation]
- b. músóro wa mwááná óɖu kulápile
 mú-solro o-a mú-aná óɖdu **ku-láp-ile**
 3-head AGR3-CONN 1-child 1.DEM.PROX NEG.SBJ3-be.big-PRF
 'The head of this child is not big.' [Elicitation]

- (25) bíríjkw' íísí ðidígúlélle wóó:, kaa' ða wóóru?
 bíríńku ési dhi-ddi-gúl-el-ile wéyo
 10a.earring 10.DEM.PROX AGR10-OBJ1SG-buy-APPL-PFV.REL PRO2SG
 kaaye dhi-a ó-oru
 NVB.NEG AGR10-CONN 11-gold
 'These earrings you bought me, aren't they made of gold?' [Mbílri.Story]
- (26) a. Pórtugáli kayíyé múnđímúwa
 Pórtugáli **kahíye** mú-nddimúwa
 1a.Portugal NVB.NEG AGR1-big
 'Portugal (it) is not big.'
- b. Pórtugáli kalí mundímúwa
 Pórtugáli **ka-lí** mu-nddimúwa
 1a.Portugal NEG.SBJ.1-be HTD.AGR1-big
 'Portugal is not big.' (Interpreted as 'Portugal is no longer respected/
 powerful.') [Elicitation]
- (27) a. namárogoló kayíye namápúja
 namárogoló **kahíye** namápuja
 1a.hare NVB.NEG 1a.joker
 'The hare (it) is not a joker.' [Elicitation]
- b. namárogoló kalí namapuja
 namárogoló **ka-lí** namapuja
 1a.hare NEG.SBJ.1-be HTD.1a.joker
 'The hare is not a joker.' [Elicitation]

2.3.3 Locative-existential predication

The negative locative-existential *ka*-SBJ-*hí*=LOC is formally very similar to *kahíye*: both constructions have the negative marker *ka*- and the (seemingly) perfect(ive) prefix *hi*-. However, the former is more transparent than the latter in that it clearly inflects for subject marking and also contains one of the three locative clitics (class 16 = *vo*, class 17 = *wo*, class 18 = *mo*). The full paradigms are provided in Table 4.

This locative-existential negator is used for both locative predication 'is not here' and existential predication 'there is no'. In both interpretations, the spatial reference is contained in the locative enclitic. In pragmatically-neutral contexts,

Table 4: Inflected negative locative-existentials

Person/class	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>hí</i> =LOC16 'is not here'	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>hí</i> =LOC17 'is not there'	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>hí</i> =LOC18 'is not inside'
1SG	<i>kaddihívo</i>	<i>kaddihíwo</i>	<i>kaddihímo</i>
2SG	<i>kawihívo</i>	<i>kawihíwo</i>	<i>kawihímo</i>
1PL	<i>kanihívo</i>	<i>kanihíwo</i>	<i>kanihímo</i>
2PL	<i>kamwiívo</i>	<i>kamwihíwo</i>	<i>kamwihímo</i>
1	<i>kaávo</i>	<i>kaáwo</i>	<i>kaámo</i>
2	<i>kaávo</i>	<i>kaáwo</i>	<i>kaámo</i>
3	<i>kawihívo</i>	<i>kawihíwo</i>	<i>kawihímo</i>
4	<i>kadhihívo</i>	<i>kadhihíwo</i>	<i>kadhihímo</i>
5	<i>kanihívo</i>	<i>kanihíwo</i>	<i>kanihímo</i>
6	<i>kaávo</i>	<i>kaáwo</i>	<i>kaámo</i>
9	<i>kayihívo</i>	<i>kayihíwo</i>	<i>kayihímo</i>
10	<i>kadhihívo</i>	<i>kadhihíwo</i>	<i>kadhihímo</i>
11, 14	<i>kawihívo</i>	<i>kawihíwo</i>	<i>kawihímo</i>
16	<i>kavihívo</i>		
17		<i>kawihíwo</i>	
18			<i>kamwihímo</i>

the subject-referent to which the location is assigned is preverbal, as in (28). However, in the case of a sentence-focus construction, i.e. when both the predicate and the subject are new information, VS order applies, as in (29). In suchthetic sentences, the postverbal element is subjected to HTD, be it the subject NP (29a) or - more unexpectedly - the (headless) subject relative (29b).

- (28) a. naámbéd' oónójúwáávi, ma namárogolo kaawó!
 naámbedde ó-ni-o-j-uw-á=vi mas namárogolo
 1a.maize SBJ.1-IPFV.DJ-15-eat-PASS-FV=RESTR but 1a.hare
kaá=wo
 NEGEX.SBJ.1=LOC17
 'Maize keeps being eaten, but the hare is not here!' [Ddingí.Story]
- b. mwááđíye kaávo, ánááye kaávo, ðoóbó ðaye kađiyívo
 mú-adhí=ye **kaá=vo** á-aná=ye
 1-wife=POSS3SG NEGEX.SBJ.1=LOC16 2-child=POSS3SG
kaá=vo dhi-óbo dhi-aye **kadhihí=vo**
 NEGEX.SBJ.2=LOC16 10-furniture AGR10-POSS3SG NEGEX.SBJ.10=LOC16
 'His wife is not here, his children are not here, his furniture is not here.' [Maria.Story]
- (29) a. [elábw' ééj y' ooténe] kaávó mbava w' oopíta míyo.
kaá=vo mu-bava o-a o-pítt-a míyo
 NEGEX.SBJ.1=LOC16 HTD.1-thief AGR1-CONN 15-surpass-FV PRO1SG
 '[In this whole place], there is no thief better than me.' [Maria]
- b. kaávó ođileewó:
kaá=wo o-dh-ile=wo
 NEGEX.SBJ.1=LOC17 AGR1-come-PFV.REL.HTD=LOC17
 'Nobody came.' (lit. 'There is not who came there.' / 'He is not here the one who came here.') [Elicitation]

Again, the copula verb *li* 'be' may also serve to express locative-existential predication. In this case, it always appears inthetic VS constructions, but unlike inflected negative locative-existentials as in (29), the postverbal subject does not control verb agreement. Instead, class 16 subject prefix *va-* appears as default agreement. Three examples are provided in (30). Again, the postverbal subject is subjected to HTD.

- (30) a. *íně:, ápa kávalí mwá?a*
íne ápa ká-va-lí mwaha
 no 16.DEM.PROX NEG-SBJ.16-be HTD.3.reason
 ‘No, here there is no problem.’ [Maria]
- b. *kavalí vogó: vaṇrórómeleya asúpâyi*
ka-va-lí vogo va-ni-róromel-ey-a
 NEG-SBJ.16-be HTD.16.somewhere AGR16-IPFV-believe-N-FV
a-súpayi
 2-policeman
 ‘Nowhere are the policemen trustworthy.’ [Elicitation]
- c. *ápató kaval’ íisavi*
ápa=to ka-va-lí e-savi
 16.DEM.PROX=then NEG-SBJ.16-be HTD.9-relish
 ‘Here then, there is no relish.’ [Elicitation]

Affirmative equivalents to locative-existential predication are based on the copula verb *li* ‘be’, for both locative (31a) and existential predication (31b). Another common strategy is to use the semi-copula verb *kála* ‘be, live’, especially as part ofthetic sentences (32).

- (31) a. *mwámúna Mariya, ol’ úumabásâni*
mwámúna Mariya o-lí o-ma-bása=ni
 1.husband Maria SBJ.1-be 17-6-work=LOC
 ‘Maria’s husband is at work.’ [Maria.Story]
- b. *[weeḑlégé keeḑlége ḑaweene,] waáli Mádá: Érúgúlú: na Manyálo.*
o-á-li má-da é-rugulu na ma-nyálo
 SBJ.1-PST-be 6-hand 9-belly and 6-foot
 ‘[Once upon a time,] there were Mr. Hands, Mr. Belly and Mr. Feet.’
 [Body.Story]
- (32) *oṭólón’ uúkúl’ ookálá fúlóór’ iiníibá*
o-ttólo=ni ókule o-hi-kála fúloóri
 17-well=LOC 17.DEM.DIST SBJ.17-PFV.DJ-be 9a.flower
e-ní-ib-á
 AGR9-IPFV-sing-FV.REL
 ‘There at the well there is a flower which sings.’ [Ddoolrinddo.Story]

2.3.4 Possessive predication

Two ‘have’ verb stems exist in Cuwabo: *káana* and *na*. Etymologically, the first, *káana*, can be analysed as the verb stem *kála* ‘be, live’ + the comitative preposition *na* ‘with’. This combination was reanalyzed as a full-fledged verb, lending itself to normal TAM marking around the root *kaan*. The second, *na* ‘have’, also involves the reanalysis of the comitative preposition *na* but in association with a subject index and a deleted copula. Albeit more restricted than *káana* in terms of inflectional marking, *na* may still host the pre-final habitual suffix *-ag*, which supports its reanalysis as an irregular verb base.

- (33) a. míyô maásíkiní dikaánê dálá ðaaví, ójà múkucé:? ñnéé!
 míyo maásíkiní **ddí-kaán-e** dála dhaavi ó-j-a
 PRO1SG even.if SBJ.1-have-SBJV 9a.hunger how 15-eat-FV
 mú-kucé ñne
 3-leftover no
 ‘I am very hungry, but to eat the leftovers? No way!’ [Elicitation]
- b. kaázîwá dî ñbáaláwa óllé waánága péle
 ka-á-ziw-á ddi mú-baali-áwa ólle
 NEG.SBJ.2-PST.IPFV-know-FV COP1 1-sister-POSS.3PL 1.DEM.DIST
o-á-naga péle
 AGR1-PST.IPFV-have.HAB.REL 1a.scabies
 ‘They did not know she was their sister, the one who had scabies.’
 [Maria.Story]

‘Not have’ simply requires the addition of a verbal negator, either *ka-* or *hi-* depending on the type of clause. The verb *na* seems to be used by default (34b). The only negative form of *káana* available in my database is provided in (34a).

- (34) a. *muʔinákáan' éébaribari munááváʔe koóbíʔiðä*
mu-hi-ná-káaná e-baribari mu-náa-vah-e
 SBJ.2PL-NEG-CNTE-have HTD.9-truth SBJ.2PL-NEG-give-SBJV
 koóbilri=dha
 10a.money=10.DEF
 'As long as you are not sure, do not give the money.' [Elicitation]
- b. *íyééne kaáná maare mééna oókósā*
 íyééne **ka-á-na** ma-are má-ina a-a
 PRO3SG NEG.SBJ.1-PST.IPFV-have HTD.6-idea 6-other AGR6-CONN
 ó-kos-á
 15-do-FV
 'She had nothing else to do.' [Maria.Story]

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In this section, negation is discussed in three types of non-main clauses: clausal complementation (§2.4.1), temporal and condition adverbial clauses (§2.4.2), and relative clauses (§2.4.3)

2.4.1 Clausal complementation

Complement clauses are of three types in Cuwabo: they can be subjunctive, indicative or infinitive. Subjunctive and indicative complements are typically introduced by the complementizer *wíilá* 'that' (often shortened to *wii* or *wi* in oral speech), which constitutes a grammaticalized form derived from the verb *wíilá* 'say, do'. Its main function is to introduce a subordinate clause.

Subjunctive complements are typically used as purpose clauses. When negated, one of the two post-initial negators is required, either *hi-* (35) or *náa-* (36). Recall that *náa-* is restricted to the subjunctive mood and is also used in non-declaratives (see §2.2). The absence of the complementizer in (36b) shows that it is not mandatory.

- (35) *oodíkúkusela owáninyu wíi ʔiʔikwenté:ʔ!*
 o-hi-ddí-kukus-el-a owáninyu wíi
 SBJ.2SG-PFV-OP1SG-take-APPL-FV 17.at.home.POSS2PL COMP
ddi-hi-kwent-e
 SBJ.1SG-NEG-copulate-SBJV
 'You took me to your house to not have sex?!' [Elicitation]

- (36) a. amosambikánó awúúbúwéla wáátamagí?a ázúgu wíilá anáátólócémó
 ðooréela ðé?u
 a-mosambikano a-hí-ubuwél-a ó-a-ttamag-íh-a
 2-Mozambican SBJ.2-PFV.DJ-think-FV 15-SBJ.2-run-CAUS-FV
 á-zugu wíilá a-náa-toloc-e=mo dhi-oréela
 2-white.person COMP SBJ.2-NEG-destroy-SBJV=LOC18 10-belonging
 dhi-éhu
 AGR10-POSS1PL
 ‘The Mozambicans expelled the whites so that they do not destroy
 our belongings.’ [Image 01_Gui]
- b. Rósa ónótápwatēða náma, enáálúle
 Rósa ó-ni-o-ttápwattedh-a náma e-náa-lul-e
 Rosa SBJ.1-IPFV.DJ-15-cook.SBJ-FV 9a.meat SBJ9-NEG-spoil-SBJV
 ‘Rosa is cooking the meat in salty water, so that it does not spoil.’
 (Festi & Valler 1994: 317, my glosses)

The subjunctive is also used as the complement of the volitional verb *ófuná* ‘to want’ in order to convey wishes. While this construction occurs frequently in my corpus with affirmative verb forms, the negative examples in (37) were elicited.

- (37) a. ábale míyó dīñfúná dīiyatukule
 ábale míyo ddi-ní-fun-á
 2.DEM.DIST PRO1SG SBJ.1SG-IPFV.CJ-want-FV
 ddi-hi-a-ttukul-e
 SBJ.1SG-NEG-OP2-take-SBJV
 ‘Those ones, I don’t want to take them.’ [Elicitation]
- b. qaáfúna dīimwe mūróbo óbu
 ddi-á-fun-a ddi-hi-mw-e mú-robo
 SBJ.1SG-PST.IPFV.CJ-want-FV SBJ.1SG-NEG-drink-SBJV 3-medicine
 óbu
 3.DEM.PROX
 ‘I didn’t want to take this medicine (but I did).’ [Elicitation]

In indicative complements, the verb form of the complement clause exhibits the same TA categories as verbs in declarative main or independent clauses. As a result, they use the same negation strategy as that found in standard negation, i.e. through the pre-initial standard negator *ka-*. This is illustrated in (38a) with present, and in (38b) with hypothetical.

- (38) a. pa ápa vaṇlógíí?u wíílá mírála ða anámwá?uno kaḍiṇgónééla
 pa ápa va-ní-log-á=ehu wíílá mí-rala
 COP16 16.DEM.PROX SBJ.16-IPFV-say-FV.REL=PRO1PL COMP 4-home
 dhi-a a-námwahuno ka-dhi-ní-goneél-a
 AGR4-CONN 2-young.generation NEG-SBJ4-IPFV-last-FV
 ‘This is how we say that young couples do not last long.’
 [Wedding.Story]
- b. kuulogúwága ḍaábaála ḍiíziw’ wi kádigaataábúwile
 ka-o-log-úw-ag-a ddi-a-hí-baál-a
 CNTF-15-tell-PASS-HAB-FV SBJ.1SG-PST-PFV.DJ-give.birth-FV
 ddi-hí-ziw-a wi ka-ddi-gaa-taábuw-ile
 SBJ.1SG-PFV.DJ-know-FV COMP NEG-SBJ.1SG-HYP-suffer-PFV
 ‘If I had children, I know that I would not suffer (i.e. they would sustain me).’ [Elicitation]

Finally, infinitive complements are negated by means of the post-initial negator *hi-*, which follows the class 15 infinitive prefix *o-*, as shown in (39).

- (39) oówóḍá o?ímútela múṭaamb’ úúlle
 o-hí-wodh-á o-hí-mu-tel-a mú-ttaambí ǫlle
 SBJ.1-PFV.DJ-succeed-FV 15-NEG-OBJ1-marry-FV 1-liar 1.DEM.DIST
 ‘She succeeded in not marrying that liar.’ [Elicitation]

2.4.2 Temporal and conditional adverbial clauses

Five TA categories relate to temporality and/or conditionality: situative, counter-expectational, sequential, narrative and counterfactual. These categories are summarized in Table 5 in both their affirmative and negative shapes. As can be seen, all are invariably negated by the post-initial marker *hi-*. The situative further employs the final vowel *-i*, which replaces *-a*. Counter-expectational expressing *before* sentences as in (42) has no affirmative counterpart.¹⁴ The last three TA categories, i.e. sequential, narrative and counterfactual, display constructional and paradigmatic symmetry with their affirmative equivalents. Each category is discussed in more detail after the table.

The situative is used to express a logical or temporal precondition, best translated in English by *if/when*-clauses. Two situative markers exist in the language:

¹⁴ *Before* counter-expectational differs from the counter-expectational expressing ‘not yet’ declaratives (discussed in §2.1) which is constructionally symmetric (see Table 2).

Table 5: Temporal/conditional TA categories

Label	Affirmative	Negative	English
situative	SBJ- <i>a</i> -VB- <i>a</i> SBJ- <i>gaa</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	SBJ- <i>a</i> - hi -VB- i SBJ- <i>ga(a)</i> - hi -VB- i	‘if/when we V’
‘before’ counter-expectational	-	SBJ- hi - <i>na</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	‘before we V’
sequential	<i>ba</i> -SBJ-VB- <i>a</i> <i>ba</i> -SBJ-VB- <i>ile</i> <i>ba</i> -SBJ- <i>gaa</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	<i>ba</i> -SBJ- hi -VB- <i>a</i> <i>ba</i> -SBJ- hi -VB- <i>ile</i> <i>ba</i> -SBJ- <i>ga(a)</i> - hi -VB- <i>a</i>	‘and we V/Ved’ ‘when/while we are Ved’ ‘while Ving’
narrative	<i>o</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	<i>o</i> - hi -VB- <i>a</i>	‘and we Ved’
counterfactual	<i>ka-o</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	<i>ka-o</i> - hi -VB- <i>a</i>	‘if we (had) Ved’

the inherited prefix *a*- (40) and the borrowed prefix *gaa*- (41) (Guérois 2017). The negative counterpart to the situative consists of the negative post-initial prefix *hi*- and the final vowel *-i*, which substitutes the default final vowel *-a*.

- (40) *ɖaaʔirintigi kabáláyá:, bwendéná kaɲnáálíbe*
ddi-a-hí-rint-ig-i kabála=ya bwenddé=na
 SBJ.1SG-SIT-NEG-weave-HAB-NEG 9a.rope=DEF 5a.mat=DEF5
ka-ni-náa-lib-e
 NEG-SBJ5-FUT-be.strong-FV
 ‘If I do not weave this rope, this mat will not be strong.’ [Elicitation]
- (41) *mugaʔíðów’ oomusiká:, kamunáájé*
mu-gaa-hí-dhow-i o-mu-siká ka-mu-náa-j-e
 SBJ.2PL-SIT-NEG-go-NEG 17-HTD.3-market NEG-SBJ.2PL-FUT-eat-FV
 ‘If you do not go to the market, you will not eat.’ [Elicitation]

In these forms, it is difficult to decide whether *-i* should be analyzed as a final negative marker or rather as a tense marker. Since this high final vowel only appears in the context of negative situatives and not affirmative situatives, I choose here to analyze it as a negative marker. This means that the situative is the only TAM category in Cuwabo whose negation is marked twice.

The counter-expectational prefix *ná*- (already discussed in ‘not yet’ declaratives of the shape *ka-sbj-ná*-VB-*a*, see §2.1), when combined with the negator *hi*- serves to express ‘before Ving’ or ‘as long as + NEG’ temporal clauses. This is very much in line with functions of ‘not yet’ expressions cross-linguistically (van Baar 1997; van der Auwera 1998; Plungian 1999). Two examples can be found in (12a) and (34a) above, and a third one is provided in (42).

- (42) kapíyáni míimbw' íísó ðiinányâla
 ka-píy-a=ni mí-imbu éso dhi-hi-ná-nyal-a
 IMP-cook-FV=PL.ADDR 4-pod 4.DEM.REF SBJ4-NEG-CNTE-wither-FV
 'Cook these peas before they fade away (as long as they are not
 withered).' [Elicitation]

The sequential is recurrently heard in narratives to mark subsequent actions. When the sequential marker *ba-* is used on its own, it is best translated as 'and he Ved', as in (43). When combined with the perfect(ive) suffix *-ile*, it refers to a simultaneous state in the past (44). Simultaneity is also conveyed with sequential situatives, but with a progressive reading translated as 'while Ving' (45).¹⁵

- (43) baakumbiṛa baaʔiðawo
 ba-a-kumbilr-a ba-a-hi-dh-a=wo
 SEQ-SBJ.1-ask-FV SEQ-SBJ.1-NEG-come-FV=LOC17
 'And he asked not to come here.' (lit. 'And he asked and he did not come here.')
- (44) wáámpambíy' óodikoséla áje, ókú baḍiimutélle
 ó-a-ni-pamb-ih-a o-ddi-kos-él-a áje
 SBJ.2SG-PST-IPFV.DJ-worry-CAUS-FV HTD.15-OP1SG-do-APPL-FV 9a.jealousy
 óku ba-ddi-hi-mu-tél-ile
 1.DEM.PROX SEQ-SBJ.1SG-NEG-OBJ1-marry-PFV
 'You were preoccupied in making me jealous (lit. 'you were preoccupied it is making me jealous'), when/while I was not engaged with you.'
 [Elicitation]
- (45) bagávirávó:, багаʔílôga
 ba-gá-vir-á=vo ba-ga-hí-log-a
 SEQ.SBJ.1-SIT-pass-FV=LOC16 SEQ.SBJ.1-SIT-NEG-talk-FV
 'As he was going, he was not talking.' [Elicited from Mbílri.Story]

Like the sequential, the narrative is frequently used in a sequence of events, once the time frame was overtly marked on the first verb form. In this sense the narrative is dependent on the temporal context previously established. Morphologically, the narrative is a non-finite verb form, segmentally identical to the

¹⁵Sequential is part of the TA categories where class 1 subject prefix *o-* surfaces as *a-*. The resulting sequence *ba-a-* may then merge and surface as short *ba-*, but this is not systematic.

infinitive, but supra-segmentally different: in narrative forms, the first underlying High tone (historically the augment tone), does not surface. Thus, *ohimugulihédha* in (46), interpreted as ‘I did not sell (it) to him’ differs in tones from the negative infinitive *ohímúguliédha* ‘to not sell (something) to someone’. While affirmative narrative is frequently heard, negative narrative seems much rarer.¹⁶

- (46) muḍaákúlelíyé kámbo, míyó oʔimuguliyéḍa
 mu-ddi-ákul-el-é=iye kámbo míyo
 AGR18-OP1SG-answer-APPL-PFV.REL=PRO3SG 9a.insult PRO1SG
o-hi-mu-gul-ih-édh-a
 NARR-NEG-OP1-buy-CAUS-APPL-FV
 ‘When he replied (to me) by an insult, I did not sell (it) to him.’
 [Elicitation]

Finally, the counterfactual is found in speculative conditional sentences known to be false or contrary to the facts. It is formally composed of the counterfactual prefix *ka-* followed by the infinitive verb. The negator *hi-* is placed between the infinitive prefix and the verbal stem, as shown in (47).

- (47) kooʔígúl’ ooba kavagaajúwe
 ka-o-hí-gúl-a o-ba ka-va-gaa-j-úw-(il)e
 CNTF-15-NEG-buy-FV HTD.11-fish NEG-SBJ.16-HYP-eat-PASS-PFV
 ‘If I had not bought fish, there would be no meal at home.’ [Elicitation]

2.4.3 Relative clauses

Cuwabo exhibits a relativization strategy, also attested in certain North-Western Bantu languages (Nsuka-Nkutsi 1982), where relativized verb forms look like participial modifiers and retain all verbal properties except subject agreement. Thus, the initial verbal slot dedicated to subject marking in independent clauses is occupied by a pronominal prefix in relative clauses, which expresses agreement with the head noun, just like any modifier in the language (see Guérois & Creissels 2020). This is illustrated in the non-subject relative in (48), where the relativized verb *dhiṁfúná* agrees with class 10 noun *guwo* ‘clothes’.

¹⁶Cross-linguistically, it is common for non-finite forms to occur in a variety of dependent clauses performing different functions (Cristofaro 2003).

- (48) oðówé wágúlé guwóðáwo ðimfúná wéyo
 o-dhów-e o-á-gul-é guwó=dhi-awo
 SBJ.2SG-go-SBJV SBJ.2SG-AMOT-buy-SBJV 10a.cloth=AGR10-POSS2SG
 dhi-ní-fun-á wéyo
 AGR10-IPFV-want-FV.REL PRO2SG
 ‘Go and buy (your) clothes that you want.’ [Women.Duty]

Not all TAM categories can be relativized in Cuwabo. In fact, only the seven TAMs which display the CJ/DJ alternation (discussed in §2.1 above) have relative equivalents. From a morphological perspective, affirmative relative verbs are on the surface identical to conjoint forms, but differ in their distribution: relative verbs may appear sentence-finally, whereas conjoint verbs cannot. Furthermore, in the case of transitive constructions, conjoint forms trigger HTD on the following (nominal) constituent as already seen in (3) above, whereas the object following a relative verb appears in its citation form, e.g. *balílo* ‘wood poles’ in (49).

- (49) ñpúle ñmuṭáṭi munááremíwe balílo
 ñpule mu-mu-ttátti mu-náa-rem-e=iwe
 18.DEM.DIST 18-3-mangrove AGR18-FUT-cut-FV.REL=PRO2SG
 balílo
 10a.wood-pole
 ‘There in the mangrove, where you are going to cut wood poles.’
 [House.Building]

Another distinction between conjoint verb forms and affirmative relatives is the way they encode negative polarity. Conjoint verb forms function as independent TA forms and consequently resort to the pre-initial negative marker *ka-* (see Table 2). Their relative counterparts are dependent and encode negation via the negator *hi-*. Both affirmative and negative relative forms are provided in Table 6.

Symmetry operates perfectly on both constructional and paradigmatic levels: each affirmative form has a corresponding negative form, and there is a one-to-one formal match between the two paradigms. An example of a negative relative construction is provided in (50).

Table 6: TA categories available for relative clauses

Label	Affirmative	Negative
REL present	SBJ- <i>ni</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	SBJ- hi - <i>ni</i> -VB- <i>a</i>
REL perfective	SBJ-VB- <i>ile</i>	SBJ- hi -VB- <i>ile</i>
REL past perfective	SBJ- <i>a</i> -VB- <i>ile</i>	SBJ- <i>a</i> - hi -VB- <i>ile</i>
REL past imperfective	SBJ- <i>a</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	SBJ- <i>a</i> - hi -VB- <i>a</i>
REL future	SBJ- <i>náa</i> -VB- <i>e</i>	SBJ- hi - <i>náa</i> -VB- <i>e</i>
REL future imperfective	SBJ- <i>gá</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	SBJ- hi - <i>gá</i> -VB- <i>a</i>
REL hypothetical	SBJ- <i>gaa</i> -VB- <i>ile</i>	SBJ- <i>gaa</i> - hi -VB- <i>ile</i>

- (50) kaáŋiya muŋu ódówá otélá ɲlógó ni?iɲziwééye
 ka-á-ttiy-a mu-ttu ó-dhow-á o-tél-a
 NEG.SBJ.2-PST.IPFV-leave-FV HTD.1-person 15-go-FV 15-marry-FV
 ni-lógo **ni-hi-ní-ziw-á=eye**
 5-family AGR5-NEG-IPFV-know-FV.REL=PRO3SG
 ‘One would not leave someone marry some unknown family.’ (lit. ‘family that they do not know of’) [Marriage.Tradition]

An alternative strategy to express negation in relatives is to use the auxiliary verb stem *koódá* ‘refuse’ followed by the main verb in its infinitive form. This is shown in (51).

- (51) a. kádíva?eðé sábaá eekoódíŋl’ oosígí?iwá
 ká-ddi-vah-edh-é sábaá **e-a-koódd-ile**
 IMP-OP1SG-give-APPL-FV 9a.soap AGR9-PST-refuse-PFV.REL
 o-sígih-iw-á
 15-apply-PASS-FV
 ‘Give me the soap which has not been used.’ [Elicitation]
- b. eɲkóódéŋliim’ úwáákulá:, [...]
e-ní-koodd-él-a=imi o-ú-akul-á
 AGR9-IPFV-refuse-APPL-FV.REL=PRO1SG 15-OBJ2SG-reply-FV
 ‘If I do not reply to you, ...’ [Elicitation]

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Negative replies to polar questions may be expressed in two different ways. The default strategy consists in repeating the inflected verb in its negative form, that is the ‘echo system’ in Sadock & Zwicky’s (1985) typology.¹⁷ This is seen in (52) where the negative verb form *kanuwíidhi* ‘we don’t know you’ is first used to answer the affirmative question *munóddíziwá?*¹⁸ ‘do you know me?’. Still in (52), *kanuwíidhi* is repeated again, but this time in echo with the negative question *kamuđdíidhi?* ‘don’t you know me?’, so as to confirm the content of the question. Affirmative replies to polar questions require the same strategy, as shown in (53), where *qiwííwa* ‘I heard’ is used as an affirmative reply to *owííwá?* ‘did you hear?’.

- (52) Maríy’ óowáávuúza: “míyó munóđíziwá:?”
 Maríya o-hí-a-vuúz-a míyo
 Maria SBJ.1-PFV.DJ-OP2-ask-FV PRO1SG
 mu-ni-ó-ddi-ziw-a
 SBJ.2PL-IPFV.DJ-15-OP1SG-know-FV
 ‘Maria, asked them: “Do you know who I am?”
 áwééne: “yíí! kanuwííđi”
 áwééne yíí ka-ni-ú-idhi
 PRO3PL INJ NEG-SBJ.1PL-OP2SG-know
 They: “We don’t know you.”
 “míyó kamuđííđi:?”
 míyo ka-mu-ddí-idhi
 PRO1SG NEG-SBJ.2PL-OP1SG-know
 [Maria] “You don’t know me?”
 belá: “kánuwííđi”
 ba-il-á ka-ni-ú-idhi
 SEQ.SBJ.1-do/say-FV NEG-SBJ.1PL-OP2SG-know
 [They] “We don’t know you.”’ [Maria.Story]

¹⁷ See Enfield et al. (2019) and Moser (2019) for more recent typologies.

¹⁸ Two lexical verb stems for ‘know’ exist in Cuwabo: the regular root *ziw* and the defective verb *idhi*.

- (53) “owííwá Mariyá?” Mariya: “djiwííwa”
 o-hí-iw-á Mariya Mariya **ddi-hí-iw-a**
 SBJ.2SG-PFV.DJ-hear-FV Maria Maria SBJ.1SG-PFV.DJ-hear-FV
 “Did you hear, Maria?” Maria: “I did” (lit. ‘I heard’). [Maria.Story]

Less frequently, one-word replies to polar questions are used, matching **Sadock & Zwicky**’s (1985) ‘yes/no system’. Three negative particles are attested in Cuwabo, *nada*, *nne* and *nāo*, which all serve as ‘no’. The most common and spontaneously used in discourse is *nada*, borrowed from Portuguese *nada* ‘nothing’. It usually stands on its own, as the two naturalistic examples below show.

- (54) owáávuúz’ áábál’ aálivo.
 o-hí-a-vuúz-a ábale a-á-li=vo
 SBJ.1-PFV.DJ-OP2-ask-FV 2.DEM.DIST SBJ.2-PST-be=LOC16
 ‘He asked those who were there:
 “ósál’ uúb’ úupátúwa?” múkwááye: “náda!”
 ó-salu óbu o-hi-pátuw-a mú-kwe=aye **nada**
 11-thread 11.DEM.PROX SBJ.11-PFV.DJ-break-FV 1-friend=POSS3SG no
 “Did this thread break?” His friend: “No!”’ [Mbílri.Story]
- (55) A: ókúléwa ókúle munofiyâwo?
 ókule=wa ókule mu-ni-o-fiy-a=wo
 17.DEM.DIST=DEF 17.DEM.DIST SBJ.2PL-IPFV-15-arrive-FV=LOC17
 ‘There, are you going to arrive there?’
 B: nada, nínga múkwáága kanáða kadjinónile
nada nínga mú-kwe=aga ka-ná-dh-a
 no like 1-friend-POSS1SG NEG.SBJ.1-CNTE-come-FV
 ka-ddi-nón-ile
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-know-PFV
 ‘No, as my friend has not arrived yet, I don’t know.’ [Conversation.3]

The negative particle *nne* is not attested in my naturalistic data. Examples in (56–57) were elicited. Comparing (56) and (57), we see that *nne* ‘no’ disagrees with the content rather than with the polarity of the question. In both (56) and (57), answering *nne* ‘no’ means that the woman is not cultivating. On the other hand, answering *ndde* ‘yes’ functions as a positive answer, i.e. the woman *is* cultivating. In this sense, *nne* and *ndde* have the same connotation as in English: they refer to the confirmation or negation of the content, and thus do not function as polarity reversing particles (**Holmberg 2015**).

- (56) A: múyaná ónólimá?
 mú-yaná ó-ni-ó-lim-a
 1-woman SBJ.1-IPFV.DJ-INF-cultivate-FV
 ‘Is the woman cultivating?’
- B1: ínê:!
nne
 no
 ‘No!’
- B2: ndê:!
ndde
 yes
 ‘Yes!’
- (57) A: muyáná kánólimá?
 mú-yaná ká-ni-ó-lim-a
 1-woman NEG.SBJ.1-IPFV.DJ-INF-cultivate-FV
 ‘Isn’t the woman cultivating?’
- B1: ínê:!
nne
 no
 ‘No! (= she is not)’
- B2: ndê:!
ndde
 yes
 ‘Yes! (= she is)’

The use of the negative particle *não* (< Portuguese *não* ‘no’) appears very marginal in Cuwabo. The only naturalistic occurrence in my corpus is an example of ironic negation, provided in (88) below (see §4.6.4).

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Cuwabo does not have indefinite pronouns such as ‘somebody’, ‘something’ or ‘somewhere’. The same holds for their negative counterparts ‘nobody’, ‘nothing’ and ‘nowhere’, respectively. Instead, generic nouns denoting ‘person’, ‘thing’ and ‘place’ are used together with clausal negation. The absence of negative indefinite pronouns and the construction whereby affirmative (pro)nouns occur with negated verbs seems to be a widespread feature in African languages (Cyffer

2009: 2). Thus, the noun *múttu* ‘person’ is used to express both ‘somebody’ and ‘nobody’. The interpretation ‘somebody’ is obtained with affirmative polarity (58a), while ‘nobody’ requires negation marking on the verb and the resulting construction is usually athetic sentence with VS word order (58b).

- (58) a. *ḍinínfuná mút’ uuḡziwá wíiyá vadííḍi*
 ddi-ní-mu-fun-á mu-ttu o-ní-ziw-á
 SBJ.1SG-IPFV.CJ-OBJ1-want-FV HTD.1-person SBJ.1-IPFV-know-FV
 ó-iy-á vaddíḍi
 15-steal-FV much
 ‘I want someone who steals a lot.’ [Maria.Story]
- b. *kaḍílévó muṭu*
 ka-dh-ile=vo mu-ttu
 NEG.SBJ.1-come-PFV=LOC16 HTD.1-person
 ‘Nobody came.’ (lit. ‘s/he did not come here someone’) [Elicitation]

Alternatively, the use of a cleft construction combining a negative existential and a free relative clause also serves to express ‘nobody’. In (59), *kaáwó odhileewó*, literally translated as ‘there is not who came’, is semantically equivalent to *kad-hílévó muttu* in (58b).

- (59) *kaáwó oḍileewó:*
 kaá=wo o-dh-ile=wo
 NEGEX.SBJ.1=LOC17 AGR1-come-PFV.REL.HTD=LOC17
 ‘Nobody came.’ (lit. ‘there is not who came here’) [Elicitation]

While the use of a generic word (equivalent to strategy 1 in Kahrel’s (1996) typology) is a widespread alternative in substitution for indefinite pronouns crosslinguistically (Haspelmath 1997: 53), the negative existential construction as in (59) (Kahrel’s strategy 5) seems less reported worldwide and mostly attested in Oceanic languages (see Haspelmath 1997: 52–57 and Veselinova 2013b: 118–123) for discussion).

The concept ‘something’ is expressed through the noun *élôbo* (or its reduced variant *élo*) ‘thing’. Similarly to ‘somebody/nobody’, its negative interpretation ‘nothing’ is obtained by means of negative verb forms, as illustrated in (60).

- (60) a. míyó kaḍinaálógé: ḍihivá?íwe elobo
 míyo ka-ddi-náa-log-e ddi-hi-váh-iw-e
 PRO1SG NEG-SBJ.1SG-FUT-speak-FV SBJ.1SG-NEG-give-PASS-SBJV
e-lobo
 HTD.9-thing
 ‘I will not speak if I am not given anything.’ [Elicitation]
- b. kaḍiṁfún’ éelo
 ka-ddi-ní-fun-á **e-lo**
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-see-FV HTD.9-thing
 ‘I do not want anything.’ [Elicitation]

Three locative nouns exist to express the meaning ‘somewhere’: class 16 *vógo* ‘somewhere *at* some place’, class 17 *wógo* ‘somewhere *to* some place’ (61a), and class 18 *mógo* ‘somewhere *in* some place’ (61b). Again, their negative counterpart, ‘nowhere’, is obtained through negative polarity on verbs integrated into thetic sentences (61c).

- (61) a. ḍaáḍówá wógó: waáḍámana na bára
 ddi-á-dhow-á **wogo** o-áddam-an-a na
 SBJ.1SG-PST.CJ-go-FV HTD.17.somewhere 15-be.next.to-REC-FV with
 bára
 5a.sea
 ‘I went somewhere near the sea.’ [Elicitation]
- b. ḍoóbó: oṭiyilé mógo gaani?
 dhi-óbo o-ttiy-ilé **mogo** gaani
 10-basket SBJ.1-leave-PFV.CJ HTD.18.somewhere which
 ‘In which place did he leave the baskets?’ [Elicitation]
- c. kavalí vogó: vaṁrórómeleya asúpâyi
 ka-va-lí **vogo** va-ni-róromel-ey-a
 NEG-SBJ.16-be HTD.16.somewhere AGR16-IPFV-trust-N-FV.REL
 a-súpâyi
 2-policeman
 ‘Nowhere are the policemen trustworthy.’ (lit. ‘there is no place where policemen are trustable’) [Elicitation]

All the affirmative lexical items presented so far in this section have otherwise retained affirmative polarity uses in the language, which means that when they

occur without negation, they never acquire a negative interpretation all by themselves (in the way *personne* ‘person’ in French has for instance, by acquiring the parallel interpretation ‘nobody’). As an expected result, they cannot function as an elliptic answer ‘Nobody!’, ‘Nothing!’ or ‘Nowhere!’ to questions ‘Who came?’, ‘What did you eat?’ or ‘Where did you go?’, respectively.

Finally, the time frequency value ‘never’ is most commonly associated with the counter-expectational TAM category, expressed by means of the prefix *ná-*. Counter-expectational conveys both unexpectedness and perfect aspectual meaning. In (62), the described event ‘go to the beach’ has so far never occurred, and appears as some surprising and unexpected piece of information.

- (62) míyó kaḋináḋówag’ oobara
 míyo ka-ddi-**ná**-dhow-ag-a o-bara
 PRO1SG NEG-SBJ.1SG-CNTE-go-HAB-FV HTD.17-9a.sea
 ‘I have never been at the beach.’ [Elicitation]

More rarely, a dedicated temporal adverb in the shape of *cípo* is used to express ‘never’. It can be found in addition to counter-expectational TAM-marking (63a), but may also easily be associated with other TAM categories, such as present imperfective (63b) or future (64). This temporal adverb is inherently negative, but still requires to be embedded in a negative polarity context, provided by verbal negative markers. Unlike the ‘nobody/nothing/nowhere’ constructions discussed above, where negation is formally and semantically expressed once, the constructions based on *cípo* ‘never’ are marked by a negative concord in the sense of Zanuttini (1997: 9), i.e. one single negative meaning is expressed twice, through the default negation marker (in the shape of a negative affix in Cuwabo) and through an inherently negative pronoun or adverb. In transitive constructions (64), *cípo* may be located clause-initially or clause-finally, but cannot emerge between the verb and the postverbal object. All the examples below were elicited.

- (63) a. kaḋinápiyága cípo
 ka-ddi-**ná**-piy-ag-a **cípo**
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-CNTE-cook-HAB-FV never
 ‘I have never cooked.’ [Elicitation]
 b. kaḋimpíya cípo
 ka-ddi-ni-píy-a **cípo**
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-cook-FV never
 ‘I never cook.’ [Elicitation]

- (64) (cípó) kaḍḍinnáátági?e (*cípó) ebáribariya (cípó)
 (cípó) ka-ddi-mu-náa-tagih-e e-báribari=ya (cípó)
 never NEG-SBJ.1SG-OP1-FUT-repeat-FV 9-truth=DEF never
 ‘I will never tell him the truth.’ [Elicitation]

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Case marking, including abessive, caritive or privative, does not exist in Cuwabo, and only some remnants of negative derivation are attested synchronically. The equivalent of English ‘un-’ is expressed lexically through dedicated verbs, most of which are historically derived by means of the (no longer productive) suffix *-ul*, which is a reflex of the reconstructed Proto-Bantu form **-ʊd*, interpreted as a ‘reversive’ (Meeussen 1967: 87, 92) or ‘separative’ (Schadeberg 1982, 2003). In all cases, the original underived verb is no longer attested in the language, hence each pair of verbs in (65) displays different roots.

- | | | |
|------------------------|-----|-------------------------|
| (65) ókosá ‘to do’ | vs. | ógujúla ‘to undo’ |
| ókuneéla ‘to cover’ | vs. | ópumbunúla ‘to uncover’ |
| osásánya ‘to build’ | vs. | ógújúla ‘to unbuild’ |
| okúna/ofúnya ‘to fold’ | vs. | otápúula ‘to unfold’ |
| ómagá ‘to tie’ | vs. | otápúula ‘to untie’ |

English ‘without’ or ‘-less’ is rendered through the adposition *sé* (< Portuguese *sem* ‘without’), used both with nouns (66) and infinitive forms of verbs (67).

- (66) íyééne waáli sé guwo
 íyééne o-á-li sé guwo
 PRO3SG SBJ.1-PST.IPFV-be without HTD.10a.cloth
 ‘He remained without clothes.’ [Elicitation]
- (67) A: niigúmána mas sssssh, yaaká ngáasi niigumánile?
 ni-hi-gúman-a mas sssssh e-aká ngáasi
 SBJ.1PL-PFV.DJ-meet-FV but INJ 9-year how.many
 ni-hi-gumán-ile
 SBJ.1PL-NEG-meet-PFV
 ‘We have already met, but ooooh, how many years without meeting each other?’
- B: s’ óógúmána
 sé ó-gumán-a
 without 15-meet-FV
 ‘Without meeting each other.’ [Conversation.7]

4 Other aspects of negation

This section explores other aspects of negation, which are more directly concerned with semantic and pragmatic issues. The discussion covers the scope of negation (§4.1), negative polarity items (§4.2), the marking of NPs in the scope of negation (§4.3), the reinforcement of negation (§4.4), negation in sentence co-ordination (§4.5) and other aspects of negation (§4.6).

4.1 The scope of negation

The scope of negation represents the area semantically affected by a negation cue, i.e. all the negated concepts. On the clausal level, negation cues and scopes are discontinuous: while negation is invariably marked on the verb (highlighted in bold in (68)), the scope further operates on the different clause constituents, indicated between square brackets in (68). Among these constituents, the one immediately following the verb (here the object *attu* ‘people’) is marked by High Tone Deletion (HTD), as further discussed in §4.3. The other constituents under negation scope are not subjected to any particular prosodic marking.

- (68) ogaaʔiléejeg’ aaʔu ɲmúruǰááni kuɲlémééliwa
 [o]-gaa-**hí**-[lejeel]-ege [a-ttu] [mu-mú-ruddá-ni]
 SBJ.2SG-SIT-NEG-greet-FV.HAB HTD.2-person 18-3-village-LOC
 ku-ní-lemeél-iw-a
 NEG.SBJ.2SG-PRS-adapt-PASS-FV
 ‘If you do not greet the people of the community, you will not be integrated.’ [Elicitation]

It is also possible to narrow the scope of subject constituents by inverting the canonical order SV to VS, as in (69), repeated from (58). In this construction too, the postverbal element, here the subject *muttu* ‘person’, is marked by HTD.

- (69) kaǰilévó muʔu
 ka-dh-íle=vo mu-ttu
 NEG.SBJ.1-come-PFV=LOC16 HTD.1-person
 ‘Nobody came.’ (lit. ‘s/he did not come here someone’) [Elicitation]

4.2 Negative polarity items

Items restricted to negative polarity are very limited in Cuwabo. These consist of the two non-verbal negators discussed and illustrated in §2.3, i.e. the general non-verbal negator *kahiye* and the negative locative-existential *ka*-SBJ-*hí*=LOC.

On the basis of my corpus, the verb *koodda* ‘refuse’ (in combination with a main infinitive verb) qualifies as another example of items that only occur in negative polarity contexts. This was shown in relative constructions such as (51). In the question in (70), two negative independent clauses follow each other: while the second exhibits standard negation in *ka-*, the first illustrates *koodda* + infinitive negation.

- (70) ogákóod’ oóða kunámál’ oósíntínaári?
 o-gá-koodd-a ó-dh-a ku-ná-mal-a
 SBJ.2SG-FUT.IPFV.CJ-refuse-FV 15-come-FV NEG.SBJ.2SG-CNTE-finish-FV
 ó-sintinaári
 15-defecate
 ‘Are you not coming, are you not done yet with your necessities?’
 [Páaká.Story]

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

It is cross-linguistically well-established that negation may have an effect on the marking of grammatical categories in NPs (see Miestamo 2014 for a typological survey). For instance, indefinite NPs under the scope of negation tend to be interpreted as non-referential, and in some languages this new interpretation is grammatically marked, either through explicit non-referential marking or through partitive. In a number of Bantu languages, the semantic-pragmatic category of referentiality is morphologically encoded by what Bantuists call the “augment”. The augment is a grammatical morpheme that most commonly appears as a vowel-shaped pre-prefix attached onto nouns and certain nominal modifiers. Very pervasive in Bantu, the augment is often considered as a determiner, a default marker for referentiality. Overall, augmented nouns assert the existence of the referent: ‘a/the (particular, individual) X’, ‘a (specific) X’. Augmentless nouns do not assert such existence (without, however, denying it) and tend to express ‘any, anything like, anything that can be classified as X’. It is however difficult to obtain a uniform picture on the use(s) of the augment throughout Bantu, as considerable cross-linguistic variation prevails (Van de Velde 2019). A common trend, however, is that augmentless forms tend to appear in syntactic environments where referentiality is not aimed at. The reader is referred to De Blois (1970) and Van de Velde (2019) for more comprehensive accounts of the Bantu augment.

In Cuwabo, the augment is not realized segmentally as typically observed in Bantu languages, but merely by means of tones, with two anchoring positions

depending on the presence versus absence of a lexical H tone on nominal stems. In the absence of lexical H, the augment tone anchors onto the first mora of the stem, i.e. the mora following the noun class prefix, as in (71a). In the presence of lexical H (invariably assigned to the penultimate mora or the ultimate in case of bimoraic stems), the augment tone cannot appear on the stem and instead retracts onto the noun class prefix, as shown in (71b), where the lexical H is bolded.

- (71) a. Nouns without lexical H
 e-rúru ‘chin’
 ni-gógoddo ‘bone’
 mu-kólrófitto ‘loincloth’
- b. Nouns with lexical H
 ní-fuló ‘anvil’
 mú-káátte ‘jug’
 é-sáraáro ‘rope’

In Cuwabo, four different contexts trigger the deletion of the first H tone (HTD), i.e. the tone historically associated with the augment. Augmentless nouns appear: i) in non-verbal predication (see §2.3); ii) when used as vocatives (see examples (3) and (93)); iii) after conjoint verb forms (3); and iv) under the scope of negation. For ease of reading, the three aforementioned examples (50), (60) and (62) illustrating HTD after negation (context iv) are repeated below. In all these examples the postverbal object is non-referential. *muttu* ‘person’ in (72) may denote any human being; *elobo* ‘thing’ in (73) denotes any type of thing; and *obara* ‘at the beach’ in (74) refers to any place that can be classified as a beach. All these items are interpreted as negatively quantified and the resulting constructions can be understood as ‘NEG-V any NP’.

- (72) kaáfiya mutu óówá otélá nlógó ni?iñziwééye
 ka-á-ttiy-a mu-ttu ó-dhow-á o-tél-a
 NEG.SBJ.2-PST.IPFV-leave-FV HTD.1-person 15-go-FV 15-marry-FV
 ni-lógo ni-hi-ní-ziw-á=eye
 5-family AGR5-NEG-IPFV-know-FV.REL=PRO3SG
 ‘One would not let someone marry some unknown family.’ (lit. ‘family
 that they do not know of’) [Marriage.Tradition]

- (73) míyó kaḍinaálógé: ḍihivá?iwe elobo
 míyo ka-ddi-náa-log-e ddi-**hi**-váh-iw-e
 PRO1SG NEG-SBJ.1SG-FUT-speak-FV SBJ.1SG-NEG-give-PASS-SBJV
e-lobo
 HTD.9-thing
 ‘I will not speak if I am not given anything.’ [Elicitation]

- (74) míyó kaḍináḍówag’ oobara
 míyo ka-ddi-ná-dhow-ag-a o-**bara**
 PRO1SG NEG-SBJ.1SG-CNTE-go-HAB-FV HTD.17-9a.sea
 ‘I have never been at the sea (meaning: any sea).’ [Elicitation]

However, in (most?) cases where the postverbal NP is meant as definite/specific, the augment tone remains present. In (75), *mwámúni* ‘husband’ is unambiguously made definite by the context and spontaneously translated with the possessive by my consultant; in (76), *koóbilri* ‘money’ is overtly marked for definiteness; and in (77), repeated from (39), *múttaambí* ‘liar’ is followed by the demonstrative. All these augmented NPs clearly refer to particular individuals or entities.

- (75) mwááḍiye kaáṁvǎ?a mwámúni
 mú-adhí=ye ka-á-mu-váh-a **mwámuni**
 1-wife=POSS3SG NEG.SBJ.1-PST.IPFV-OBJ1-give-FV 1.husband
 ‘His wife did not give (it, i.e. food) to her husband.’ [Mbílri.Story]
- (76) mu?inákáan’ éébaribará munáávǎ?e koóbíṛiḍa
 mu-hi-ná-kaaná e-baribari mu-**náa**-vah-e
 SBJ.2PL-NEG-CNTE-have HTD.9-truth SBJ.2PL-NEG-give-SBJV
koóbilri=dha
 10a.money=DEF10
 ‘As long as you are not sure, do not give the money.’ [Elicitation]
- (77) oówóḍá o?ímútelá múṭaamb’ úúlle
 o-hí-wodh-á o-hí-mu-tel-á **mú-ttaambí**
 SBJ.1-PFV.DJ-succeed-FV HTD.15-NEG-OBJ1-marry-FV 1-liar
ólle
 1.DEM.DIST
 ‘She succeeded in not marrying that liar.’ [Elicitation]

Notably, the presence of a modifier is not a sufficient condition to obtain a definite/specific reading. In (78), albeit *guwo* ‘cloth’ is understood as belonging to a particular individual through possessive modification, no reference to a particular/specific cloth is made and in this context the NP is better interpreted as ‘any cloth of his’, hence the augment omission.

- (78) agaʔífúlege guwo ɖaáyé: agáńnuka
 a-gaa-**hi**-ful-eg-e **guwo** **dhi-áye**
 SBJ.1-SIT-NEG-wash-HAB-FV HTD.10a.cloth AGR10-POSS3SG
 a-gá-ni-nuk-a
 SBJ.1-FUT.IPFV-IPFV.DJ-smell.bad-FV
 ‘If he does not wash (any of) his clothes, he will smell bad.’ [Elicitation]

The absence of the augment under the scope of negation is attested in several other Bantu languages, such as Zulu (Doke 1961; Buell 2006), Luganda (Hyman & Katamba 1990), Ruuli (Ruppert, Namyalo & Witzlack-Makarevich this volume), and seems to always be (originally) associated with non-referentiality.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The invariable morpheme *wéene* or its agreeing cliticized form *=ene* are frequently attested in Cuwabo to express an intensive (‘INTS’) meaning. They may appear on different constituents, including verbs. When these are marked for negation, *wéene* ~ *=ene* reinforces negation and assumes an adverbial function best translated in English as ‘really’. Compare (79b) with (79a). As a general intensifier, *wéene* ~ *=ene* also functions in affirmative contexts, e.g. to express ‘the meat is *really* cooked’. Cuwabo has no dedicated adverb to reinforce negation, such as English ‘at all’. Instead the language resorts to the negative particle *nne* ‘no’ (see §3.1), either before or after the verb, as shown in (79c). In this context, as well as with one-word negative replies to polar questions, the borrowed variant *nada* ‘no’ (< Portuguese *nada* ‘nothing’) may substitute *nne*. The use of *nne* or *nada* as reinforcers of negation remains infrequent in the language (but see §4.6.4 for ironic negation).

- (79) a. náma kipiýéyile
 náma ki-píy-ey-ile
 9a.meat NEG.SBJ9-cook-N-PFV
 ‘The meat is not cooked.’

- b. *námá kipiýéyíle wééne*
náma ki-píy-ey-ile wéene
 9a.meat NEG.SBJ9-cook-N-PFV INTS
 ‘The meat is really not cooked.’
- c. *námá nné: kipiýéyíle ~ kipiýéyíle nnê:*
náma nne ki-píy-ey-ile
 9a.meat no NEG.SBJ9-cook-N-PFV
 ‘The meat is not cooked at all.’ [Elicitation]

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Negative coordinators ‘neither... nor...’ are rendered by *nne... nne...* (negative counterpart of *óbe* ‘or’). Most often, *nne* coordinates two nouns as in (80). Note that negative polarity is also obligatorily marked on the verb.

- (80) *kaḍiṃfúná omuṭeba nne Érúgúlú, nné viínagwíya Máda*
ka-ddi-ní-fun-á o-mu-tteb-a nne é-rugulu nne
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV.CJ-want-FV HTD.15-OP1-carry-FV nor 9-belly nor
viína-gwíya má-da
too-again 6-hand
 ‘I do not want to carry neither Mr. Belly, nor Mr. Hand.’ [Body.Story]

The particle *nne* may also function as a clause coordinator (81a), albeit such constructions are more commonly expressed by clause juxtaposition, with optional addition of the adverb *viina* ‘too’ (81b).

- (81) a. *kaḍiṃfúná: osuńzá; nné ógóná*
ka-ddi-ní-fun-á o-suńz-a nne ó-gon-á
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-want-FV HTD.15-study-FV NEG 15-sleep-FV
 ‘I don’t want to study, nor do I want to sleep.’ [Elicitation]
- b. *kaḍiṃfúná: osuńzá; viína: kaḍiṃfúná: ogoná*
ka-ddi-ní-fun-á o-suńz-a viina
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-want-FV HTD.15-study-FV too
ka-ddi-ní-fun-á o-gon-á
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-want-FV HTD.15-sleep-FV
 ‘I don’t want to study, nor do I want to sleep.’ [Elicitation]

4.6 Other aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

Negative transport, whereby negation formally marked in a first (higher) clause semantically applies to the second (lower) clause predicate (see, e.g., Lakoff 1969; Lindholm 1969; Horn 1989), does occur in Cuwabo with different kinds of predicates. Starting with verbs of feeling, the raised version ‘I don’t hope he comes’ in (82b) is semantically tantamount to ‘I hope he does not come’ in (82a), where negation is in the lower clause.

(82) Context: ‘Oh no, your husband is annoying!’

- a. *ḍinojééḍéla wi kanááḍéwo*
ddi-ni-o-jéedh-el-a wi ka-náa-dh-e=wo
 SBJ.1SG-IPFV-15-hope-APPL-FV COMP NEG.SBJ.1-FUT-come-FV=LOC17
 ‘I hope he doesn’t come.’ [Elicitation]
- b. *kaḍiṇjééḍéla wi onoóḍáwo*
ka-ddi-ni-jéedh-el-a wi o-ni-ó-dh-a=wo
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-hope-APPL-FV COMP SBJ.1-IPFV-15-come-FV=LOC17
 ‘I don’t hope he comes.’

The same cases of anticipated negation are observed with verbs of volition (83) and verbs of opinion (84).

(83) Context: ‘I appreciate your company.’

- a. *ḍiṇfúná oʔiḍowe*
ddi-ní-fun-á o-hi-dhow-e
 SBJ.1SG-IPFV.CJ-want-FV SBJ.2SG-NEG-go-SBJV.HTD
 ‘I want you not to go.’ [Elicitation]
- b. *kaḍiṇfúná wí oḍówe*
ka-ddi-ní-fun-á wí o-dhów-e
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-want-FV COMP SBJ.2SG-go-SBJV
 ‘I don’t want you to go.’

(84) Context: ‘It is late.’

- a. *ṇnóóná wí kanááḍéwo*
ddi-ní-on-á wí ka-náa-dh-e=wo
 SBJ.1SG-IPFV.CJ-see-FV COMP NEG.SBJ.1-FUT-come-FV=LOC17
 ‘I think they are not coming.’ [Elicitation]

- b. kaḍinóónámó wí anoóḍa
 ka-ddi-ní-on-á=mo wí a-ni-ó-dh-a
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-see-FV=LOC18 COMP SBJ.1-IPFV-15-come-FV
 ‘I don’t think they are coming.’

Cuwabo has no verbs of perception such as ‘seem’, ‘appear’, ‘look like’, ‘sound like’, or ‘feel like’. Instead, the comparison adverb *nínga* ‘like, as’ is used, as illustrated in (85).

- (85) Context: ‘This land is dry.’
 nínga karúbíle muzógwe
 nínga ka-rúb-ile mu-zógwe
 like NEG-rain-PFV 3-rain
 ‘It seems it did not rain.’ ~ ‘It does not seem it rained.’ [Elicitation]

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation is a marked use of negation conveying reactive and corrective speech act. In Horn’s terms (1989: 363), it consists in “objecting to a previous utterance on any grounds whatever, including the conventional or conversational implicata it potentially induces, its morphology, its style or register, or its phonetic realization”. Typically, an utterance involving metalinguistic negation is followed by a rectifying assertion that not only contrasts with the corrected segment, but also provides or clarifies the motivation for the objection. In Cuwabo, metalinguistic negation does not differ from ordinary/descriptive negation employed on verbs. In (86), the verb stem *zíveliwa* ‘like’ used twice is negated in the first clause, then repeated in the second clause, but affirmatively and along with the emphatic adverb *vaddiddi* ‘much’. This metalinguistic use of negation marks a reassessment supported by an overbid: the speaker does more than like coconut water: s/he loves it, literally translated as ‘like very much’.

- (86) míyó kaḍinḍíveliwa ṇlanya, ḍinozíveliwa vaḍíúḍi!
 míyo ka-ddi-ni-zíveliw-a ni-lanya
 PRO1SG NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-like-FV HTD.5-coco.water
 ddi-ni-o-zíveliw-a vaddiddi
 SBJ.1SG-IPFV.CJ-15-like-FV much
 ‘I don’t like coconut water, I love it!’ [Elicitation]

4.6.3 Phasal polarity

Phasal polarity in Kramer's (2021) terms involves two positive and two negative concepts. The negative ones are 'not yet' and 'no longer'. The first combines the counter-expectational prefix *ná-* with one of the two main negators, *ka-* in declarative verbal main clauses (§2.1) and *hi-* in temporal adverbial clauses (§2.4.2). The second concept 'no longer' marks the end of a situation which used to hold before the changing point. In Cuwabo, it is expressed by means of the adverb *viina* 'too, as well' used together with standard negation, as exemplified in (87). See Guérois (2021) for a detailed analysis of phasal polarity in Cuwabo.

- (87) ɲníngó neetéeɲe kaneéddíle víina
 ni-níngó ni-eté=ene ka-ni-édd-ile víina
 5-body 5-all=INTS NEG-SBJ5-walk-PFV too
 'The whole body no longer worked (lit. 'walked').' [Body.Story]

4.6.4 Non-negative uses of negatives

It is common in discourse that negative verbal and non-verbal forms are used to express emphatic affirmative clauses. This deliberate use of language which states the opposite of the truth serves the communicative goal of irony. When applied to negative constructions, this rhetoric device accentuates affirmative/positive connotation. Resulting constructions read as negative statements but in actual fact mean the opposite. In (88), ironic negation is used with the negative copula *kayiye*, supplemented with the negative particle *não* (see §3.1), although *nne* 'no' is also possible in this context.

- (88) A: oótélá. áyaná oná gwée:
 o-hí-tel-á á-yaná o-ná gwée
 SBJ.1-PFV.DJ-marry-FV 2-woman SBJ.1-have many
 'He got married. Women, he has lots of them.'
- B: yii!
 INJ
 (Surprise)
- A: kayiye áyaná não. niimwálána
 kayiye á-yaná não ni-hi-mwálan-a
 NVB.NEG 2-woman NEG SBJ.1PL-PFV.DJ-break.up-FV
 'He has very many women. We broke up already.' (lit. 'There are no women no.') [Conversation.7]

According to my main consultant, the presence of the negative particle is obligatory. *Kayíye áyaná* would be interpreted literally as ‘There are no women (but only men, for instance)’. Double negation, originally used as a reinforcing device (see §4.4), thus seems to have semantically evolved into an emphatic affirmative marker. However, the two ironic negative constructions in (89) and (90) do not exhibit double negation. Albeit my main consultant still prefers the presence of a final negative particle in these contexts, these two examples, produced by two different Cuwabo story tellers, clearly illustrate that double negation is not a mandatory condition to convey ironic negation.

- (89) áťú kayíyo ódów’ óotólon’ uúkúle kayíy’ ópítáála
 á-ttu **kahíyo ó-dhow**-á o-ttólo=ni ókule **kahíyo**
 2-person NVB.NEG 15-go-FV 17-well=LOC 17.DEM.DIST NVB.NEG
ó-pitaál-a
 15-hide-FV
 ‘People went to that well and hid themselves.’ (lit. ‘People are not to go to that well, are not to hide.’) [Ddoolrinddo.Story]
- (90) rapáriga dábunó kayíy’ óokálá ðiiðo:
 rapáriga ddabunó **kahíyo o-kál-a** dhiidho
 1a.girl then NVB.NEG 15-be-FV naked
 ‘Then the mistress remained naked.’ (lit. ‘The mistress then is not to be naked’) [Mbílri.Story]

The conditions for the presence of the negative particle *nne* ~ *nāo* are equally unclear with verbal predicates. While it is considered necessary in (91), which is semantically equivalent to the affirmative *ddinozíveliwa vaddííddi* ‘I like [it] a lot’ in (86) above, its addition in both (92) and (93) is unaccepted, even by my main consultant.

- (91) kađínóziveliwa řně!
ka-ddí-ni-o-ziv-el-iw-a **nne**
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-15-be.tasty-APPL-PASS-FV NEG
 ‘[I don’t like coconut water,] I love it!’ (lit. ‘I don’t like/love it no’)
 [Elicitation]
- (92) a. dāáđúwaála kí mááñjé kâgubúllé:, mañgándwéyá kađaareyíle.

ddi-a-hí-dduwaál-a kí má-anjé ka-gubúl-ile (*nne)

SBJ.1SG-PST-PFV.DJ-forget-FV EMPH 6-water NEG.SBJ6-rise-PFV NEG

ma-ngánddwe=ya ka-ddi-a-rey-île

6-fish.trap=DEF NEG-SBJ.1SG-PST-set-PFV

‘I had forgotten, the tide rose (lit. ‘the tide didn’t rise’) and I had not set up the fish traps.’ [Elicitation]

- b. Affirmative alternative:

máánpjé aágúbúla

má-anjé a-hí-gubúl-a

6-water SBJ6-PFV.DJ-rise-FV

‘the tide rose’

- (93) a. ɱbwaná! múgóḡo, eṇzíveliwééye! woóne: kimáǎle!

mu-bwaná mú-goddo e-ni-zível-iw-a=íye

HTD.1-friend 3-rice.cake AGR9-IPFV-please-PASS-FV.REL=PRO3SG

o-ón-e ki-mál-ile (*nne)

SBJ.2SG-see-SBJV NEG.SBJ9-finish-PFV NEG

‘Friend! The rice cake, it’s something he likes! Look, it’s all finished!’
(lit. ‘Look, it’s not finished’) [Conversation.2]

- b. Affirmative alternative:

woóne: eemála!

o-ón-e e-hi-mál-a

SBJ.2SG-see-SBJV SBJ9-PFV.DJ-finish-FV

‘Look, it’s finished!’

The examples above show that the presence or absence of the negative particle may in certain cases be indicative of intra-speaker variation (examples (89) and (90)). In other cases, it may reveal an ongoing process whereby the negative particle would preferably be added to avoid any pragmatic ambiguity (examples (88) and (91)). However, it is difficult at this stage to understand why examples such as (92) and (93) preclude the presence of the negative particle. More research is needed.

Ironic negative constructions are not freely expressed with any TAM category. In addition to already-illustrated habitual present (91) and perfective (92–93), only present progressive (94a), past progressive (95a) and counter-expectational (96a) seem to authorize ironic negative constructions. On the other hand, negation used in past imperfective (97a) and future (98a) may only be interpreted as face value, and the expression of an emphatic positive statement may only obtain through affirmative polarity, as seen in (97b) and (98b). Further research is

required to figure out exactly how ironic negation and TAMs do interact. It may be that the future, as an irrealis, blocks the effect of the pragmatic device. The restriction observed with the past imperfective remains, however, more puzzling. All the examples below were elicited.

- (94) a. João kánózivala ñnê:
 João **ká**-ni-o-zival-a **nne**
 João NEG.SBJ.1-IPFV-15-lie-FV NEG
 'João is lying a lot!' (lit. 'John is not lying no')
- b. João onozívála vadíqì!
 João o-ni-o-zival-a vaddíddi
 João SBJ.1-IPFV-15-lie-FV much
 'João is lying a lot!' (Affirmative alternative)
- (95) a. João kéél' ozivala ñnê:
 João **ka**-á-ila o-zival-a **nne**
 João NEG.SBJ.1-PST.IPFV-AUX HTD.15-lie-FV NEG
 'João was lying a lot!' (lit. 'John wasn't lying no')
- b. João wéeloozívála vadíqì!
 João ó-a-ila o-zíval-a vaddíddi
 João SBJ.1-PST.IPFV-AUX 15-lie-FV much
 'João was lying a lot!' (Affirmative alternative)
- (96) a. João keél' ózivala ñnê:
 João **ka**-íla o-zival-a **nne**
 João NEG.SBJ.1-AUX HTD.15-lie-FV NEG
 'João (unexpectedly) lied.' (lit. 'John didn't (unexpectedly) lie no')
- b. João olóózíválá vadíqì!
 João o-íla o-zival-a vaddíddi
 João SBJ.1-AUX HTD.15-lie-FV much
 'João (unexpectedly) lied.' (Affirmative alternative)

- (97) a. João kaázívalaga rñê:
 João ka-á-zival-ag-a **nne**
 João NEG.SBJ.1-PST-IPFV-lie-HAB-FV NEG
 *‘João lied/used to lie a lot!’ → ‘João did not lie.’
- b. João wááñzivalaga vadídj!
 João ó-a-ni-zival-ag-a vaddíddi
 João SBJ.1-PST-IPFV-lie-HAB-FV.DJ much
 ‘João lied/used to lie a lot!’
- (98) a. João kanáázívalége rñê:
 João ka-náa-zival-eg-e **nne**
 João NEG.SBJ.1-FUT-lie-HAB-FV NEG
 *‘João will lie a lot!’ → ‘João will never lie.’
- b. João agáñzivala vadídj.
 João a-gá-ni-zival-a vaddíddi
 João SBJ.1-FUT.DJ-IPFV-lie-FV much
 ‘João will lie a lot!’

While ironic negative constructions such as ‘he’s not very bright’ used in the sense ‘he’s stupid’ may easily be perceived as a common rhetoric device cross-linguistically (albeit they have not been the subject of much investigation), ironic negative constructions such as those found in Cuwabo, which point to an emphatic affirmative state of affairs reversing a literally negative phrasing (‘he’s not bright’ = ‘he’s very bright’), are certainly more exceptional. Similar constructions exist in French, as illustrated in (99), but these represent very colloquial expressions, where: i) the innovated negative particle *pas* is the single negator in the sentence, as commonly heard in verbal speech; ii) informal contractions are overtly pronounced (*chuis* < *je suis*, *t’es* < *tu es*, *z’êtes* < *vous êtes*); iii) very informal words are used (*merde*, *chiant*, *veinard*); iv) a specific prosody applies, which unambiguously underlines irony.

- (99) a. Chuis pas dans la merde!
 PRO1SG.be.PRS NEG in DEF shit
 ‘I am in big trouble!’ (lit. ‘I’m not in trouble.’)
- b. T’es pas chiant!
 PRO2SG.be.PRS NEG boring
 ‘You’re boring!’ (lit. ‘You’re not boring.’)

- c. Z'êtes pas des veinards!
 PRO2PL.be.PRS NEG INDF.PL lucky.person.PL
 'You're lucky people!' (lit. 'You're not lucky people.')

In contrast, Cuwabo ironic negative constructions do not differ formally, prosodically and stylistically from truth-functional negative constructions. Only situational factors may help in realizing that the negative sentence is ironic. These are clear cases whereby the meaning of a sentence cannot be exhaustively interpreted on the basis of the literal meaning of its constituents.

4.6.5 Diachronic observations

Diachronically, the two pre-stem negators *ka-* and *hi-* have been reconstructed to Proto-Bantu as **ka-* and **ti-*, respectively (Meeussen 1967). The final vowel *-i*, not uncommon through (Eastern) Bantu, has also been observed by Meeussen (1967), but not reconstructed. The post-initial *náa-* (restricted to the subjunctive mood in Cuwabo) is most likely related to the form *na-*, which is a recurrent negative marker in zone P languages (Kamba Muzenga 1981: 115), i.e. Bantu languages spoken in south Tanzania and north Mozambique.

Both non-verbal negators *kahíye* and *ka-SBJ-hí=LOC*, discussed in §2.3, are based on the initial negative marker *ka-*. The use of standard negation places Cuwabo onto stage A of the model of the Negative Existential Cycle as set out by Croft (1991) and retaken in Veselinova (2013b, 2014, 2016). This conforms to the tendency observed across Bantu, where the majority of existential negators belong to the earlier stages of the cycle (Bernander et al. 2022), as well as to the cross-linguistic generalizations provided in Croft's and Veselinova's typologies.

5 Conclusions

Table 7 summarizes all the negative constructions of Cuwabo discussed in this chapter, as well as the contexts in which they appear.

Two areas of Cuwabo negation in particular require further research. First, it would be interesting to dig deeper into the connection between negation and the marking of referentiality on the postverbal constituent through the presence or absence of the augment tone, and then relate the results with other grammatical contexts involving augmentless forms. The existence of ironic negative constructions in order to postulate an emphatic affirmative statement is a second fascinating aspect of Cuwabo negation. This pragmatic device is recurrently attested in natural speech, and does not appear as colloquial as ironic negation observed

HC: @LSP
 could you find a way to make it clear that some lines belong together (echo system + negative particles both belong to negative replies in the second column, same with the next two lines.

Table 7: Summary of Cuwabo negative items/constructions

Negator/Construction	Function	Section
<i>ka-</i>	standard negation	§2.1
<i>ka-</i> (with subjunctive)	non-declarative main clauses	§2.2
<i>na' a-</i> (with subjunctive)	non-declarative main clauses	§2.2
	complement clauses	§2.4.1
<i>kahíyo ~ kahíye</i>	non-verbal predication	§2.3.1 & §2.3.2
<i>ka-sp-hí=LOC</i>	negative locative-existential	§2.3.3
NEG + copula verb <i>li</i>	non-verbal predication	§2.3
<i>hi-</i>	non-main clauses (default marker)	§2.4
<i>hi-</i> + FV negator <i>-i</i>	situative TA category	§2.4.2
echo system	negative replies	§3.1
negative particles <i>nada-nne-não</i>		
generic noun + NEG-V	negative indefinites	§3.2
existential construction + free relative		
adposition <i>sé</i> ‘without’	negative derivation	§3.3
<i>koodda</i> ‘refuse’ + infinitive	negative polarity	§4.2
drop of augment	marking of NPs after negation	§4.3
adverb <i>weéne</i> or particle <i>nne</i>	reinforcing negation	§4.4
<i>nne... nne...</i>	negative coordinators	§4.5

in a language like French. Particularly interesting in these constructions is the possible role played by double negation, as well as the interaction with TAM categories.

Acknowledgements

I am grateful to the audience of the Workshop on Negation across Languages of the 8th Conference on Syntax of the World’s Language (SWL8). I would also like to extend my gratitude to Matti Miestamo and Ljuba Veselinova as editors as well as the anonymous reviewers who provided helpful feedback and comments on earlier versions of the chapter.

Abbreviations

1, 2, 3, etc	noun class	IMP	imperative
1a, 5a, 9a, 10a	subclasses of classes 1, 5, 9, 10	INDF	indefinite
1SG	first person singular	INF	infinitive
2SG	second person singular	INTS	intensive/intensifier
3SG	third person singular	INJ	interjection
1PL	first person plural	IPFV	imperfective
2PL	second person plural	LOC	locative
3PL	third person plural	NARR	narrative
ADDR	addressee	NEG	negative
AGR	agreement prefix	NEGEX	existential negation
AMOT	associated motion	N	neuter
APPL	applicative	NVB	non-verbal
AUX	auxiliary	OBJ	object prefix
CAUS	causative	PASS	passive
CNTE	counter-expectational	PFV	perfective
CNTF	counterfactual	PL	plural
CJ	conjoint	POSS	possessive
COM	comitative	PRF	perfect
COMP	complementizer	PRO	pronoun
CONN	connective	PROX	proximal
COP	copula	PRS	present
DEF	definite	PST	past
DEM	demonstrative	RECP	reciprocal
DIST	distal	REF	referential
DJ	disjoint	REL	relative
EMPH	emphatic	RESTR	restrictive
FUT	future	SBJ	subject prefix
FV	final vowel	SBJV	subjunctive
H	high tone	SEQ	sequential
HTD	(first) high tone deletion	SIT	situative
HAB	habitual	TA(M)	tense-aspect(-mood)
HYP	hypothetical	VB	verbal base

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Negation in Kam

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This chapter comprehensively provides a comprehensive analysis of the negation system of Kam, a Niger-Congo language spoken in central-east Nigeria. The analysis is based on data from various sources, including elicitation, narratives and conversations. It follows the same structure as all other chapters in this volume, treating negation in different types of simple clauses, in complex clauses (including questions of scope and Neg-raising), and negative replies. Some notable features of negation in Kam are the following. Morphological tone plays a major role in expressing negation, as it does in other aspects of Kam. Negation interacts in complex ways with tense and aspect, showing a clear distinction under negation between future and non-future tense which is rare in the area where Kam is spoken. Negation is also expressed differently in clauses with an object and clauses without an object. There is a special intensity construction, which features the clausal negator used expletively, expressing an emphatically positive meaning instead. In other areas, e.g. in non-verbal predication, Kam shows common typological patterns. The chapter also discusses related constructions, including nondum and discontinuative constructions. The conclusion gives a brief overview of most markers that are discussed. Some markers and syntactic devices appear to be optional and require more research.

Keywords: Negation, Kam language, Niger-Congo, Adamawa languages, Grammatical tone.

1 Introduction

Kam (ISO: **kdx**, Glottocode: **kamm1249**) is spoken in central-east Nigeria by the Kam ethnic group. The name of the language in Kam is *àngwòm* and the speakers call themselves *nyí ngwòm* ‘Kam people’. *Kam* is probably an exonym, but the Kam have adopted it and their oral tradition states that it was coined by a Kam person. Most speakers live in around thirty villages in Bali Local Government

Area in Taraba State, in an area bounded by the Kamajim mountain to the east and the Kam river to the south. The largest of these villages is Mayo Kam. There are also communities of Kam speakers in large Nigerian towns and cities such as Lagos, Abuja and Jalingo, the state capital of Taraba. I estimate that in 2020 there were between 8,000 and 15,000 speakers of Kam (Lesage 2020: 6-7).

Kam has been classified as an Adamawa language, but published evidence for this claim is meager, based on 100 words published in the early 20th century (Meek 1931: 547–550, Greenberg 1963, Boyd 1989). In the absence of more convincing evidence, Kam is better considered an unclassified Niger-Congo language. Its Niger-Congo membership is fairly well established (Lesage 2019). In the past, Kam was in close contact with one or more Central Jukunoid languages (Jukun Takum or Wapan, Benue-Congo, Niger-Congo). It shows minimal lexical links with Mumuye and the Yendangic languages (Adamawa, Niger-Congo) such as Wam and Nyesam (Lesage 2019). Hausa (Chadic, Afro-Asiatic) is the lingua franca of the region and Fulfulde (Atlantic, Niger-Congo) has been a politically important language for some centuries due to past Islamic conquests initiated by Fula leaders and due to British indirect rule. The Kam associate closely with the Jirim, who are considered preferred marriage partners and who participate in some traditional Kam ceremonies. The Jirim speak a language closely related to Chamba Daka (Benue-Congo, Niger-Congo).¹

Most Kam speakers are multilingual. Apart from Kam, they speak at least Hausa. Many also speak Jirim, and some speak Nigerian Pidgin and/or English. Others speak Mumuye, Jukun Takum or Wapan, Fulfulde and other languages spoken in the wider area such as Tiv (Benue-Congo, Niger-Congo).

Most Kam speakers live in small communities. The Kam people have little representation in the state government. More urban areas (such as Mayo Kam) show a tendency for language shift to Hausa. One might therefore consider Kam a vulnerable language. It will likely be affected by demographic changes currently happening in the region. This is particularly relevant considering the rapid rate of population growth and urbanization in Nigeria as well as the presence of Boko Haram in the north-east of the country, which has led to an influx of refugees among the welcoming Kam community.

Lesage (2020) provides the most up-to-date grammatical description of Kam. Its basic constituent order is SVO. Kam has prepositions and modifiers always follow heads in the noun phrase. Kam has cross-linguistically rare features such

¹ISO 639-3 codes and Glottocodes for languages mentioned are the following: Jukun Takum: *jbu*, *juku1254*, Wapan: *juk*, *wapa1235*, Mumuye: *mzm*, *nucl1240*, Wam or Kugama: *kow*, *kuga1239*, Nyesam: *pbn*, *kpas1242*, Hausa: *hau*, *haus1257*, Adamawa Fulfulde: *fub*, *adam1253*, Jirim: *dir*, *diri1253*, Nigerian Pidgin: *pcm*, *nige1257*, English: *eng*, *stan1293*, Tiv: *tiv*, *tivv1240*.

as labial-velar stops (/kp/ and /gb/), logophoric pronouns, tense-aspect-negation marking on subject pronouns, clause-final negation, and a plural word. Other features of Kam are a prevalence of multi-verb constructions and tonal morphology. Many of these typological features are characteristic of the linguistic area called the Macro-Sudan Belt (Güldemann 2008, 2018) that covers large parts of West and Central Africa, including the area where Kam is spoken. Segmental inflectional morphology is scarce and Kam does not have gender agreement, an otherwise widespread feature of Niger-Congo languages. Repetition and reduplication play a striking role in different aspects of Kam grammar, including future tense constructions (see §2.1.2). As this chapter will illustrate, many constructions in Kam involve multiple grammatical markers (and tones) simultaneously marking the same grammatical category in different places in the clause. Tones are essential to negation in Kam and to the interpretation of the examples presented in this chapter. For this reason, I briefly introduce the properties of tone that are most relevant here. Kam has three tone levels: L (*à*), M (*ā*) and H (*á*). M and H tones spread one position to the right, regardless of morpheme boundaries (1).^{2,3}

- (1) M tone: *ñcā # àtār* → *ñcā ātār* [star stone] ‘star of stone’
 H tone: *àlib # dinà* → *àlib dínà* [head mosquito] ‘head of mosquito’

Occasionally, a floating L tone occurs: a L tone that follows the segmental form of a morpheme and only surfaces on the following syllable. A floating L tone does not surface when the morpheme in question is prepausal, as in (2), where the floating L tone marking the possessive pronoun *ú^L* ‘3SG:POSS’ remains unassigned. The second line in the example displays the underlying lexical tones. Superscript ^L indicates a floating L tone.

- (2) *àná ú.*
àná ú^L
 father 3SG-POSS
 ‘His/her father.’

A ^L-tone may affect the realization of the following syllable. When a ^L-tone precedes a H or M tone, it causes downstep, lowering the pitch of the following

²Tone spread is optional: in careful speech, tones do not always spread, and it is more prominent in some speakers’ speech than in others.

³When a tone spreads to a prepausal syllable, this results in a falling HL, HM or ML contour tone, as both the spreading tone and the tone originally attached to the targeted syllable are realized on this syllable. HL contour: *àlib # nyì* → *àlib nyì* [head thing] ‘something’s head’; HM contour: *àlib # yō* → *àlib yó* [head PL] ‘heads’.

and all subsequent tones (3). I indicate downstep with a downstep arrow ^L. When a ^L-tone follows a H or M tone, it blocks tone spread.

- (3) ngmgbàb àná ú 'kǎ̀ b̀ùn.
 ngmgbàb àná ú-^L kǎ̀ à̀b̀ùn
 shoot father 3SG-POSS INS arrow
 'Shoot his father with an arrow.'⁴

When a H or M tone spreads over a L tone, or a H tone spreads over a M tone, this L or M tone is delinked, or 'pushed' rightwards, and acts as a floating ^L tone, causing downstep (4).

- (4) sǐrá # à̀lǐb → sǐrá á^Llǐb [hair head] 'head hair'

Morphological tone (or *replacive* tone) occurs widely across Kam negation constructions. When a morpheme carries morphological tone, the glosses indicate this with a backslash (\). In the second line of examples, a backslash is followed by the tonal morpheme in question (H, M, L). In the third line, a backslash is followed by the abbreviation for the grammatical category expressed. (5) shows the verb *gòm* 'pay' marked by H tone as a negative future verb.

- (5) ... góm ú ...
 gòm\H ú
 pay\NEG.FUT 3SG
 '(It will) not pay him ...'

This chapter follows the structure of the negation questionnaire that was circulated for this volume (Miestamo 2025). I describe clausal negation in §2, which covers standard verbal negation (§2.1), negative imperatives and questions (§2.2), negation in stative predications (§2.3), and negation in subordinate clauses (§2.4). The section on non-clausal negation (§3) contains information on negative replies in §3.1. I discuss negative indefinites (§3.2) and negative derivation (§3.3) very briefly, since these topics are not prominent in Kam. Other aspects of negation (§4) I discuss briefly are the scope of negation (§4.1), negative polarity items

⁴An initial *à-* in nouns is typically reduced to *ǎ* or can be dropped altogether in utterance-internal positions. When a H tone precedes and would spread an *à*-prefix, and the *à* is dropped because of this rule, this H-spread does not surface anywhere, as in the realization of *à̀b̀ùn* 'arrow' in (3).

(§4.2), reinforcing negation (§4.4), negative transport (§??), metalinguistic negation (§4.6.1), and an emphatic affirmative construction that features the clause-final negator *h̀̀* without expressing negative meaning (§4.6.2). Finally, §5 provides an overview of negative markers in the clause. Where a cross-linguistically interesting construction is not present in Kam, or where there's not enough data to make claims on a topic, I mention this in the relevant sections. Research on Kam is ongoing and further research may change some of the findings presented in this paper.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

2.1.1 Introduction

Standard negation interacts in complex ways with tense and aspect in Kam. Most affirmative constructions have no simple negative counterpart. In other words, there is constructional asymmetry between affirmative and negative constructions. Conversely, most negative constructions cannot straightforwardly be transformed into an affirmative construction. Some tense and aspect distinctions in affirmative constructions disappear under negation: there is paradigmatic asymmetry. These asymmetries are summarized in Table 1 below (see also [Miestamo 2005](#)). Future constructions provide a good example of constructional asymmetry. One type of affirmative future construction optionally repeats the main verb after an object, as in (6).

- (6) *ì j̀̀t ù j̀̀tì.*
 2PL give:FUT 3SG give
 ‘We gave it to him.’ (2023-01-23, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

Negating this statement yields a construction that is asymmetric with the affirmative construction: there is no repetition but there are two markers that have no affirmative equivalents (as in (7); note that the second marker is optional, cf. §2.1.2 below).

- (7) *ì ŕ ʔ̀́t ú ŕ h̀̀.*
 1PL NEG.FUT give:NEG.FUT 3SG NEG.FUT NEG
 ‘We will not give it to him.’ (2023-01-23, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

Negation, tense and aspect values are generally marked by more than one marker in the clause. I give an overview of all negation markers in §5 below. The only marker that consistently recurs in standard negation constructions is the clause-final marker *hn̩*. Apart from *hn̩*, (a) there is replacive tone on verbs (see Table 3 below), (b) there are preverbal markers, (c) there is a marker that follows the object and (d) there are separate sets of negative 1SG and 2SG subject pronouns (see Table 2). The negative pronouns qualify as STAMP-morphs, which simultaneously mark the subject, tense, aspect, mood and polarity of a clause (cf. Anderson 2016). Because Kam only has these for 1SG and 2SG categories and they occur in the subject pronoun slot in the clause, I refer to them as pronouns. 1SG and 2SG (and 1PL) subject pronouns cannot occur independently.

The next sections give an overview of the different affirmative and corresponding negative constructions in declarative clauses. The basic distinctions relevant to declarative verbal negation in Kam are the following:

- Tense: future vs. non-future tense
- Aspect: perfective vs. imperfective aspect
- The presence of an object vs. the absence of an object
- Polarity: positive vs. negative polarity

The third point, presence or absence of an object, does not only involve the difference between transitive and intransitive clauses. It also distinguishes transitive clauses where the object is expressed from those where the object is not expressed. There are no third person inanimate pronouns in Kam. As a result, inanimate objects are often left unexpressed (see examples (23), (25) and (66)).

Nondum and discontinuative constructions are variations on standard negation constructions but have some important differences. For this reason, I discuss them as other clausal negation constructions in §2.6.

2.1.2 Future tense constructions

There are two affirmative future constructions in Kam. Which one is used depends on whether there is an object in the clause or not. There is only one negative future construction, which does not distinguish object-less from object-having clauses. The negative future construction is very different from the positive future constructions.

The positive future with an object is expressed by the structure in (8), where *N̂* and *á* are the first and second person singular subject pronouns.

- (8) Future tense construction with an object
 Ñ, á or NP^{Subject} + V^L + NP^{Object} (+ V-i)

In other words, this construction involves a H tone 1SG or 2SG subject pronoun (or any other noun phrase in subject function with its lexical tone), a floating ^L tone after the main verb, and optional repetition of the verb after the object. The repeated verb carries the final vowel -i if its stem ends in a consonant, as in (9).⁵

- (9) **ń** **búg** à **būg-ī**.
 Ñ būg-^L á būg-i
 1SG.SBJ.FUT pinch-FUT 2SG.OBJ pinch-FV
 ‘I will pinch you.’ (session_345, Danjuma Bello, elicitation)

Object-less future tense clauses (10) have the same H tone 1SG and 2SG subject pronouns. Instead of full repetition of the verb, however, the verb is partially reduplicated. This reduplication involves an initial copy of the first syllable of the verb with a prespecified high vowel (original *a*, *e* and *ε* become *i*; original *ɔ* and *o* become *u*). There is no replacive tone. The final vowel -i is added to the reduplicated verb if its stem ends in a consonant (e.g. in (11)).

- (10) Future tense construction without an object
 Ñ, á or NP^{Subject} + V~V(-i)
- (11) **ń** **síssàrí**.
 Ñ sàrí~sàrí
 1SG.SBJ.FUT FUT~peel
 ‘I will peel (it).’ (session_345, Danjuma Bello, elicitation)

The negative future construction (12–14) is formed by the same H tone pronouns found in affirmative future constructions. However, it involves a H melody on verbs instead of the lexical tone or a floating ^L tone, a preverbal marker *rə*^L and an optional clause-final marker *rə*. The negator *hn* is placed at the end of the clause. There is no repetition or reduplication and there is no final vowel -i on the verb.

- (12) Negative future tense construction
 Ñ, á or NP^{Subject} + *rə*^L + V\H + NP^{Object} (+ *rə*) + *hn*

⁵This final vowel obligatorily occurs in a wide range of constructions, including on deverbal attributive adjectives, on speech and thought reporting verbs in reported speech constructions, in the intensity construction with partial reduplication (see §4.6.2). Sometimes it occurs without a clear function (Lesage 2020: 246–251).

- (13) **ń** **rǎ** **ʲút** **ú** **rǎ** **hń.**
 ń **rǎ^L** **jùtí\H** **ú** **rǎ** **hń**
 1SG.NEG.FUT NEG.FUT give\NEG.FUT 3SG NEG.FUT NEG
 ‘I will not give it to him/her.’ (2023-01-23, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (14) **rǎ** **ʲkábrí** **rǎ** **hń.**
 rǎ^L **kàbrí\H** **rǎ** **hń**
 NEG.FUT break\NEG.FUT NEG.FUT NEG
 ‘(Whatever you put in this bag,) (it) will not break.’ (session_290, David Mark, elicitation)

2.1.3 Non-future tense constructions

Affirmative declarative clauses in Kam specify future tense, perfective aspect or imperfective aspect. Under negation, however, aspectual distinctions are neutralized: only the future-non-future distinction remains. There are two negative non-future constructions, differentiated by the tone on the verb. One construction marks negative non-future clauses with an expressed object, the other construction marks negative non-future clauses without an expressed object. This distinction is not apparent in affirmative non-future constructions. I present the two affirmative non-future constructions first, and then describe the two negative non-future constructions.

Perfective aspect is encoded by the schema in (15), where *ń* and *á* are the 1SG and 2SG pronouns. *à* is an optional post-verbal perfective marker (16). It is not always present, especially when there is adverbial modification (17) and sometimes in multi-verb constructions (where its tone may still be present on or after the first verb, blocking H tone spread (18)).⁶ It does not occur in imperfective aspect constructions and in future tense constructions.

- (15) Perfective aspect construction
 $\acute{N}, \acute{a} \text{ or } NP^{\text{Subject}} + V\backslash H + NP^{\text{Object}} (+ \grave{a})$
- (16) **ń** **fǎ** **kúmé** **â.**
 ń **fǎ\H** **kúmé** **à**
 1SG.SBJ.PFV raise\PFV chicken PFV
 ‘I raised chickens.’ (session_365, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

⁶An alternative explanation for the floating ^L tone after *pǎ* in (18) is that *pǎ* does not carry aspect marking but simply carries a H tone that spreads from the preceding syllable (*wú*), which delinks the lexical L tone of *pǎ* which then acts as a floating ^L tone. Lesage (2020: 309) follows this analysis. This issue requires further work.

- (17) *ú ngmgbáb ú ká b̀̀n.*
ú ngmgbàb\H ú ká à̀̀n
 3SG shoot\PFV 3SG INS arrow
 ‘He shot him with an arrow.’ (session_048, Isa Sarkin Dawa, narrative)
- (18) *àwú ṕ́ yī lū bì.*
àwú p̀̀\H à? yī lù à̀̀bì
 3SG come\PFV PFV? arrive lie down
 ‘He came and lay down.’ (session_181, Babangida Audu, narrative)

Imperfective aspect is expressed by L tone 1SG and 2SG subject pronouns and the pre-verbal marker *r̀̀*. There is no replacive tone on verbs, see (19–21).

- (19) **Imperfective aspect construction**
Ñ, à or *NP^{Subject} + r̀̀ + V + NP^{Object}*
- (20) *à r̀̀ b́́n ántḗ́.*
 2SG.SBJ.IPFV IPFV say truth
 ‘You are telling the truth.’ (session_159, Solomon Ahmadu, elicitation)
- (21) *ń r̀̀ b́́nī nyé́́.*
 1SG.SBJ.IPFV IPFV cross go
 ‘I am crossing (the road).’ (session_311, Danjuma Bello, elicitation)

The distinction between perfective and imperfective aspect is neutralized under negation. Independent from this, there are two negative non-future constructions. One construction negates clauses with an expressed object (26–28), the other negates clauses without an expressed object (22–25). Both constructions have L tone 1SG and 2SG subject pronouns (as opposed to H tone in affirmative perfective constructions) and the clause-final negator *h̀̀n*. There is also an optional pre-verbal negative marker *m̀̀g* (see below). Only the tone on the verb is different: in the object-less construction, there is no grammatical tone and the verb is left with its lexical tone (22). In the construction with an object, the verb is marked with a replacive H tone (26). Neither construction can carry the preverbal affirmative imperfective marker *r̀̀* or the postverbal affirmative perfective marker *à*.

- (22) Negative non-future construction without object: no replacive H tone on verbs
Ñ, à or *NP^{Subject} (+ m̀̀g) + V + h̀̀n*

- (23) *ng* *gòm hn.*
 1SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT pay NEG
 ‘I did not pay.’ (session_364, David Mamuda, elicitation)
- (24) *à* *pè hn.*
 2SG.sbj.NEG.NFUT come NEG
 ‘You did not come.’ (session_364, David Mamuda, elicitation)
- (25) *ì dóg hn.*
 1PL see NEG
 ‘We did not see (it).’ (session_364, David Mamuda, elicitation)
- (26) Negative non-future construction with object: replacive H tone on verbs
Ń, à or NP^{Subject} (+ *màg*) + V\H + NP^{Object} + *hn*
- (27) *ng* *góm* *ú hn.*
Ń *gòm\H* *ú hn*
 1SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT pay\NEG.NFUT 3SG NEG
 ‘I did not pay him.’ (session_364, David Mamuda, elicitation)
- (28) *nyò gbéb* *ú hn.*
nyò gbèb\H *ú hn*
 2PL beat\NEG.NFUT 3SG NEG
 ‘You people did not beat him.’ (session_364, David Mamuda, elicitation)

Negative non-future constructions may feature an optional pre-verbal negator *màg*, as in (29–32).⁷ It does not change the semantics of a proposition when inserted or left out. One could hypothesize that it serves an important function in those clauses where the only obligatory negation marking is the clause-final marker *hn*. Some (but not all) of my consultants said that *màg* is never obligatory but that it is always preferable, yet in elicited clauses it only occasionally occurs. Its frequency in natural discourse remains to be assessed. I observed *màg* mostly in perfective contexts: there is only one example in my data where it occurs with an imperfective reading (32). There is no evidence that *màg* sets apart perfective from imperfective constructions.

⁷An alternative pronunciation, *má*, elides the final velar. This pronunciation is homophonous with the Hausa word *mà* ‘also, too’, which is also often found in Kam discourse (e.g. (68)). When my consultants were confronted with this pronunciation in a clause in isolation, they often could not tell for certain which *mà* was intended when not presented with the English translation.

- (29) *m̩* (màg) *ním* àfàm nág *h̩h̩*.
N̩ (màg) *nìm\H* àfàm nág *h̩h̩*
 1SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT (NEG.NFUT) eat\NEG.NFUT meat cow NEG
 ‘I did not eat cow meat.’ (session_285, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (30) *Gàmbó (màg)* *kím* *ínfàm ú* *h̩h̩*.
Gàmbó (màg) *kìm\H* *m̩nfàm ú^L* *h̩h̩*
 Gambo (NEG.NFUT) chew\NEG.NFUT meat 3SG-POSS NEG
 ‘Gambo did not eat his meat.’ (session_285, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (31) *àwú (màg)* (‘)pó *lilē* *h̩h̩*.
àwú (màg) *pò\H* *àlilē* *h̩h̩*
 3SG (NEG.NFUT) come\NEG.NFUT yesterday NEG
 ‘He did not come yesterday.’ (session_285, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (32) (màg) *sín* *á* *h̩h̩* *yí?*
 (màg) *sìn\H* *á* *h̩h̩* *yí?*
 NEG.NFUT do\NEG.NFUT 2SG.OBJ NEG Q
 ‘Isn’t it doing (it for) you?’ (i.e. ‘Aren’t you satisfied?’) (session_271, Anonymous, conversation)

2.1.4 Summary

Table 1 summarizes the tense, aspect, and negation values that are obligatorily expressed in Kam clauses, referring to relevant examples in the preceding text.

Table 1: Tense, aspect, and negation values in declarative clauses

Polarity value	With or without object	Future	Non-future	
			Perfective	Imperfective
Positive polarity	With object	(9)	(16), (18)	(20), (21)
	Without object	(11)		
Negative polarity	With object	(13), (14)		(29)
	Without object			(25)

Table 1 also highlights some paradigmatic asymmetries (cf. Miestamo 2005): aspectual distinctions (perfective vs. imperfective aspect) are lost under negation, as well as the distinction between an object-having and an object-less future. One grammatical distinction is relevant in negative constructions but is neutralized in affirmative constructions: the distinction between object-having vs. object-less non-future clauses.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Kam imperatives are expressed by the bare stem of the verb without added markers or morphology: *lù* ‘sleep!’, *jērī* ‘look!’. Negative imperatives are formed by a discontinuous negation construction involving a pre-verbal marker *ká* and a clause-final marker *gà*. This construction is used for 2SG addressees and 2PL addressees alike. When the 2PL pronoun *nyò* occurs, it precedes the preverbal marker *ká*, as in examples (33–35).

- (33) *ká lú gà!*
 NEG.IMP sleep NEG.IMP
 ‘Don’t sleep!’ (session_137, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (34) *ká jērī núng gà!*
 NEG.IMP look bird NEG.IMP
 ‘Don’t look at the bird!’ (session_137, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (35) *nyò ká nyéb ᵀnggwóg wàn nè gà!*
 2PL NEG.IMP go house chief EMPH NEG.IMP
 ‘Don’t go to the house of the chief!’ (to more than one person)
 (Tope_Bitrus_06, Garba Abubakar Bako, elicitation)

Negative polar questions can be used to ask rhetorical questions or to ask for confirmation of a suspicion. There are two kinds of polar questions in Kam: those with the clause-final interrogative marker *yí* (36) and those that are marked by a clause-final H tone (37). The question marker *yí* is placed after the negative clause that is questioned.

- (36) *lém nyò hñ yí?*
 be.good:NEG.NFUT 2PL NEG Q
 ‘(They are helping, and you are still complaining.) Isn’t it good for you people?’ (session_271, Anonymous, conversation)

A question marked by a clause-final H tone causes the L tone of the clause-final negator *hñ* to be realized as H, as in (37).

- (37) *àkpó ᵀngwún, àkpó ᵀngwún á hñ?*
àkpó ñngwún àkpó ñngwún á hñ\H
 twenty five twenty five PRST NEG\Q
 ‘One hundred, isn’t it one hundred?’ (session_034, Isa Sarkin Dawa, conversation)

Negative content questions of the type ‘who/what/... did not do X’ are expressed by relative clauses of the type ‘who/what/where/how is it that did not do X?’ (see §2.4). Grammatically, there is no difference between a negative content question, where the negation targets the propositional content of the clause as a whole, and a content question containing a negated relative clause, where the negation targets only the relative clause ((38), cf. §??).

- (38) ànyí mínā màg kím búwú hñ à?
 person which:REL NEG.NFUT chew:NEG.NFUT one:3SG:POSS NEG REL
 ‘Who did not eat their piece?’ or ‘Who is the person that did not eat their piece?’ session_285, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

2.3 Negation in stative predications

2.3.1 Negation of equation and proper inclusion

Affirmative nominal predication is expressed by simple juxtaposition of the subject noun phrase and the predicate noun phrase. The predicate noun phrase is marked by a clause-final presentative marker *á*. There are no tense and aspect distinctions in equation and proper inclusion constructions.

Nominal predication is negated by the regular clause-final verbal negator *hñ* (39–41). Other than this, there is no difference between affirmative nominal predication constructions and negative nominal predication constructions. The other negative markers available in verbal clauses cannot occur in the nominal predication construction: there is no verb, there are no grammatical tense or aspect distinctions, and the 1SG and 2SG pronouns in nominal predication constructions are independent pronouns (*nyim* ‘1SG.IDP’, *nyà* ‘2SG.IDP’), which do not mark different tense, aspect and negation values.

- (39) Negative nominal predication construction
 NP^{VERBLESS.SUBJECT} + NP^{COMPLEMENT} + *á* + *hñ*
- (40) Jón, àwú málám á hñ, àwú nyí nyí ‘ibārī á.
 John 3SG teacher PRST NEG 3SG person thing farm:ADJZ PRST
 ‘John, he is not a teacher, he is a farmer.’ (session_285, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (41) ànyàgbàn à mē m ‘á hñ. àngwán m ‘á.
 woman PROX mother 1SG:POSS PRST NEG in.law 1SG:POSS PRST
 ‘This woman is not my mother. She’s my (mother-)in-law.’ (session_285, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

2.3.2 Existential, locative and possessive negation

The copula *dá* ‘to be, to exist’ expresses existence and location. In existential clauses (but not usually in locational clauses), *dá* is usually followed by the emphatic marker *bhá*, which elsewhere also functions as a presentative marker. There are no tense and aspect distinctions in copula constructions (see (42)–(43)).

- (42) *nyìsìrì dá bhá*
 money **be** EMPH
 ‘There is money.’

- (43) *ànggwóg á ʼdó léb àshé*
 house PROX **be** inside bush
 ‘The house is in the bush.’ (Tope_Bitrus_06, Garba Abubakar Bako, elicitation)

Speakers use the negative existential *sìrì* combined with the clause-final marker *ríg* to say that something does *not* exist or that something is *not* in a specific place. *ríg* has an emphatic function in affirmative clauses (e.g. (66)). I did not find the presentative marker *bē* in negative existential clauses (see 44–45).

- (44) *ànggwóg sìrì léb áshé ríḡ.*
 house **be.NEG** inside bush **NEG**
 ‘The house is not in the bush.’ (2024-11-03-Rahab, Rahab Garba Precious, elicitation)

- (45) *nyì sìrì ríḡ.*
 thing **be.NEG NEG**
 ‘There is nothing.’ (session_253, Anonymous, narrative)

There are two predicative possession constructions in Kam. The first construction is similar to locational predication constructions in Kam, but instead of a locational prepositional phrase (*léb áshé* ‘in the bush’ in (44)), the possessive construction has a comitative prepositional phrase (*rà wó* ‘with a dog’ in (46)).

- (46) *ń dá rá ʼwó*
 1SG.SBJ **be** COM dog
 ‘I have a dog.’ (session_071, Isa Sarkin Dawa, elicitation)

This construction is negated by the same negative copula *sìrì* and the clause final negator *ríg*, as in locative predications. Usually, there is no comitative marker in the negative construction (47). Occasionally, it still occurs, as in (48).

- (47) àwú sírí ʔnggwóg ríɡ.
 3SG be.NEG house NEG
 ‘He does not have a house.’ (session_208, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (48) Àúdú sírí rí cì càr ríɡ.
 Audu be.NEG COM child three NEG
 ‘Audu doesn’t have three children.’ (session_287, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

Predicative possession can also be expressed by the regular verb *kàr* ‘to keep, to have’. This construction is negated by standard negation, including negative subject pronouns, pre-verbal negators, replacive tone, post-verbal negators and the clause-final negator *hñ* (see §2.1 and (69)).

The expression of predicative possession and its negation in Kam completely aligns with cross-linguistic patterns that are already very well studied in the typological literature, e.g. Stassen (2009); Heine (1997); Kuteva et al. (2019), and Veselinova (2013).

2.3.3 Negation of adjectival predication (attribution)

Affirmative predicative adjectives in Kam are derived from verbs by means of partial reduplication ((49), see also Lesage 2020: 264–265).

- (49) kág ‘to crunch’ → kikkág ‘to be crunched’
 bŭm ‘to spoil’ → bŭmbŭm ‘to be spoiled’
 sòngí ‘to make tasty’ → sùnsó’ngí ‘to be tasty (of food)’

To mark tense or aspect distinctions or to negate adjectival predication constructions, speakers use the simplex verb instead of the reduplicated form (50–51). Standard negation constructions are used (see §2.1). One could say that the stative/dynamic distinction is lost under negation.

- (50) mǐngkángá dág hñ.
 water be.cold NEG
 ‘The water is not cold.’ (session_163, Solomon Ahmadu, elicitation)
- (51) àtábé bá lēm k-ánīmī hñ
 fish PROX be.good ADVZ-eat:ADJZ NEG
 ‘This fish is not good to eat.’ (lit: ‘This fish is not good as food.’)
 (session_169, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

If a reduplicated form of the adjective is used in combination with *hn̩*, the result is a completely different construction with an emphatically positive meaning rather than a negative meaning. I discuss this construction in §4.6.2 below.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Relative clauses in Kam follow the noun and involve two relativizers: the marker *ā*, which follows the noun and precedes the relative clause, and the marker *à* which follows the relative clause. Relative clauses are negated like main clauses, by the clause-final negator *hn̩* and any other negators enclosed by the two relativizers. The relative clause in (52) involves standard negation in a non-future tense construction (cf. §2.1.3). The relative clause in (53) involves negation of property assignment (cf. §2.3.3).

- (52) ànyí mínā màg kím búwú hn̩ à?
 person which:REL NEG.NFUT chew:NEG.NFUT one:3SG:POSS NEG REL
 ‘(Who is) the person that did not eat their piece?’ (session_285, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

- (53) àcì gbéḃ wó yág ʔkó kwí ā nād hn̩ à.
 child beat:PFV dog carry INS stick REL be.thick NEG REL
 ‘The child beat the dog with a thin stick (a stick that is not thick).’
 (session_342, Isa Sarkin Dawa, elicitation)

Subordinate clauses, including relative clauses, adverbial clauses, and complement clauses, are negated like main clauses. If a subordinate clause involves the standard clause-final negator *hn̩*, it occurs at the end of the complete sentence. The scope of negation is apparent from non-final negators and other markers when these are present (viz. subject pronouns, pre-verbal markers, post-object markers and replacive tone on the verb). §4.1 and §4.5 contain more discussion and examples of negation in complex sentences involving subordinate clauses.

Conditional clauses in Kam are expressed by a clause-final conditional marker *kā*. When a negated clause is expressed as a condition (54–55), *kā* simply follows the whole clause, including the negator *hn̩* in verbal clauses, and the emphatic marker *rīg* in existential or locational clauses (56).

- (54) nyí nánī hn̩ kā...
 people be.many NEG COND
 ‘If people aren’t many, (then what do they say)?’ (session_034, Samuel U. Adams, conversation)

- (55) nyò dóg nyí ʼinīmī hñ kǎ...
 2PL see:NEG.NFUT thing eat:ADJZ NEG COND
 ‘If you people do not see food ... (you people will not go to school).’
 (session_271, Anonymous, conversation)
- (56) àkpò sǐrǐ rǐg kǎ...
 food be.NEG NEG COND
 ‘If there is no food ... (you people will not go).’ (session_292, David Mark, elicitation)

The negative conditional coordinator *sīkā* has an apprehensive reading similar to English ‘lest’ in some of its occurrences. It contrasts with the coordinator *ànyá/líb* that simply translates as polarity-neutral ‘because’. In (57), *sīkā* may simply be translated as ‘if not’: the king would be caught if he were not hidden. In (58) only an apprehensive ‘lest’ reading is possible.

- (57) ì wóg àwàn à, sīkā í pó ʼcúg éwàn...
 1PL hide\FUT king REL lest 3PL come\FUT catch king
 ‘(that) we will hide the king, lest they will come and catch (our) king.’
 (session_271, Isa Sarkin Dawa, narrative)
- (58) í tǐn gópsǐ, sīkā àyí sámrǐ kòm sámrǐ.
 LOG move separate, lest 3PL spoil:FUT place spoil
 ‘(The Kam say that) they moved away, lest they (the Jukun) will ruin the place.’ (session_271, Isa Sarkin Dawa, narrative)

In (58), there is no logical connection between the Kam leaving and the Jukun ruining the place. It is assumed that the Jukun will ruin the place in any case, and the Kam want to leave to avoid this ruin.

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

The only inherently lexical verb in Kam is the negative existential copula *sǐrǐ* ‘not to be’, which is not marked for tense or aspect. It is always accompanied by the negative existential marker *rǐg* (see §2.3.2). This marker, *rǐg*, has a negative existential meaning in existential and locational predication, but it has an emphatically affirmative meaning in other contexts (e.g. (66)). This polysemy requires more discussion in further research.

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

It is not within the scope of this chapter to provide a complete treatment of phasal polarity constructions in Kam.⁸ Two values, however, are relevant to negation in Kam and are expressed differently to other negation constructions. These values are *nondum* ('not yet', cf. Veselinova & Devos 2021) and the discontinuative ('no longer') (van der Auwera 1998), which are viewed as negative tenses in some languages (Veselinova 2017). Van der Auwera (1998) calls *nondum* constructions *negative continuative*, but because this term is very similar to *discontinuative* ('no longer') and is also used with other functions elsewhere, I follow Veselinova & Devos' (2021) terminology.

2.6.1 Clause-final *nondum* marker: *jèn* 'not yet'

jèn, the clause-final *nondum* marker, is semantically related to such adverbs as *tàncòng* 'still' and *kpàn* 'always, usually'. Such adverbs can also occur in other positions and can occur as minimal clauses on their own. *jèn* only occurs clause-finally, however, and can be considered a grammatical marker rather than an adverb.

Unlike standard negation clauses, *nondum* clauses can combine with the different affirmative aspect and future constructions without constructional asymmetries. (59) is an imperfective *nondum* clause. Standard negation constructions do not distinguish perfective and imperfective aspect (§2.1).

- (59) Ráháb rǎ 'gbání Gárinhāmzà jèn.
 Ráháb rǎ gbán-i Gárinhāmzà jèn
 Rahab IPFV arrive-FV Garin.Hamza NDUM
 'Rahab is not yet arriving in Garin Hamza.' (session_288, Solomon Ahmadu, elicitation)

(60) is a future *nondum* construction. Standard negative future constructions would have a preverbal negative future marker *rǎʔ*, which is absent in this case. Standard negative future verbs have a replacive H tone instead of the floating ^L tone in (60) that is characteristic of affirmative future tense constructions.

⁸The continuative ('still') is expressed by different adverbs: *tàncòng* 'still, always', *kpòng* 'always, usually', or *kpàn* 'always, usually'. Inchoative constructions ('already') may be left unmarked or expressed by a coordinated clause with *cànrí* 'to finish' or *lògrí* 'to end'. See Lesage (2020: 334–337).

- (60) Ráháb gbán-ì Gárinhāmzà pól'káng jén.
 Ráháb gbánL-ì Gárinhāmzà pól'káng jèn
 Rahab arrive\FUT-FV Garin.Hamza tomorrow NDUM
 'Rahab will not yet arrive in Garin Hamza tomorrow.' (session_288,
 Solomon Ahmadu, elicitation)

While imperfective and future nondum clauses do not follow the standard negation pattern, perfective nondum clauses do. Perfective nondum clauses contain negative subject pronouns (*m̃* '1SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT' in (61)) and the optional preverbal negator *màg* (in both (61) and (62)). In these cases, *jèn* may be considered as a sub-type of clause-final negator, since it occupies the slot usually taken by the negator *hèn*.

- (61) *m̃* *màg* *dóg* *ú* *dúd'dógí* *jén*.
m̃ *màg* *dóg\H* *ú* *dóg~dóg-i* *jèn*
 1SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT NEG:NFUT see\NEG.NFUT 3SG EXP~see-EXP NDUM
 'I have never seen him until now.' (Literally: 'I have never seen him yet.')
 (session_271, Danjuma Bello, conversation)
- (62) *àyí mág* *dóg* *ntèkù jèn*.
àyí màg *dóg\H* *ntèkù jèn*
 3PL NEG.NFUT see\NEG.NFUT toad NDUM
 'They haven't seen the toad yet.' (session_181, Babangida Audu, narrative)

2.6.2 Discontinuative: *nàng hèn/nàng rí* 'no longer'

A discontinued action is expressed by regular negation constructions with a marker *nàng* preceding the clause-final negator *hèn* (63–64). *nàng* is only found elsewhere as part of the adverb *nàngkò* 'first', and nowhere else. It is not clear what the function of *-kò* is in this adverb and the exact function and full distributional properties of *nàng* are matter for further research. It is not clear whether *nàng* should be considered a fully grammaticalized discontinuative marker or a lexical item.

- (63) *Mérí ním* *nyí* *nàng* *hèn*.
 Mary eat:NEG.NFUT thing DISCNT NEG
 'Mary is no longer eating.' (session_288, Solomon Ahmadu, elicitation)
- (64) *Déyvíd cúg* *é'nyág* *nàng* *hèn*.
 David do:NEG.NFUT work DISCNT NEG
 'David is no longer working.' (session_288, Solomon Ahmadu, elicitation)

nàng also occurs in negative existential and locational negation constructions, preceding the clause-final negator *ríg* ((65), cf. §2.3.2).

- (65) Bàbànggídá sí'rí Jàlingò *nàng* *ríg*.
 Babangida be.NEG Jalingo DISCNT NEG
 ‘Babangida is no longer in Jalingo.’ (session_288, Solomon Ahmadu, elicitation)

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Kam has two synonymous positive response words that can be used to respond positively to a question: *m* and *ooy*.⁹ Both are toneless but usually occur with a relatively high pitch. Both words are considered ‘proper Kam’ and not borrowed by speakers though *m* also occurs in other languages in the area. *ooy* seems to be more exclusive to Kam. Added to a proper name, *ooy* also functions as a vocative marker. Elsewhere it can be used as a call to attract attention or as a greeting from a distance. To respond negatively to a question, a reduplicated form of either positive response words is used, with a glottal stop separating the copy from the reduplicated segment: *mʔm* or *oʔo*. Note that *oʔo* does not have the final glide of its affirmative counterpart. The negative response words are also toneless and are found with all possible melodies.

Kam has a truth system for negative and positive replies: a positive reply signals agreement with the polarity of the question; a negative reply signals disagreement with the polarity of the question (cf. Holmberg 2015; Moser 2018). Response words do not indicate agreement or disagreement with the proposition in the question. In (66), a positive reply to the question “They cannot speak English?” acts as confirmation that “they” indeed do not speak English (A1). A negative reply expresses that, contrary to the negative polarity value of the question, “they” *do* speak English (A2).

- (66) Q: àyí bén túráncì màsí hń ‘yí?
 3SG speak:NEG.NFUT English know NEG Q?
 ‘They cannot speak English?’
 A1: ń, àyí bén màsí hń.
 yes 3SG speak know NEG
 ‘Indeed, they cannot speak English.’

⁹For this part of the chapter, I collected data with the questionnaire from Moser (2018).

- A2: **mʔm**, àyí bén màsí rīg.
no 3SG speak:PFV know EMPH
 ‘No, they *can* speak (it).’ (session_304, Rahab Garba Precious, elicitation)

A negative response to a negative question often includes the emphatic marker *rīg* to emphasize the reversed positive polarity value of the reply, as in (66, A2).

Another way of responding positively or negatively to a question is to simply repeat the proposition with the correct polarity value, as in (67). Reply words are not obligatory.

- (67) Q: kòm sísób nà yí?
 place PRED:be.hot today Q
 ‘Is it hot today?’
 A1: (**mʔm**,) kòm sób hñ.
 (**no**,) place be.hot NEG
 ‘(No,) it is not hot today.’ (session_304, Rahab Garba Precious, elicitation)

màsīrī is an emphatic negative reply roughly equivalent to English *never*. It indicates that a time someone just asked about does not exist (68–69). While it is not synchronically possible to segment the expression into smaller parts, it may derive from a combination of the optional negative marker *màg* used in non-future constructions and the adverb *sīrī* ‘completely’, or the existential negator *sīrā* (§2.3.2).

- (68) Q: á zúz¹zúbí dúd¹dógí kòm gómnátí yí?
 2SG.SBJ.FUT FUT:steal EXP place government Q
 ‘Would you ever steal from the government?’
 A: **màsīrī**, mà àyí ró ¹cúg ín ró hñ kã.
 never, also 3SG NEG.FUT catch:NEG.FUT 1SG.OBJ NEG.FUT NEG if
 ‘Never, (not) even if they would not catch me.’ (session_286, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (69) Q: ká bári mīnā, nyí Sérkíndáwá rə nìmsí nág á ¹yí?
 TEMP time which:REL people Sarkin.Dawa IPFV feed cow REL Q
 ‘At what time do the people of Sarkin Dawa feed their cows?’
 (session_286, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

A: **màsīrī**, nyí Sérkindáwá màg kár nág hñ.
never people Sarkin.Dawa NEG.NFUT have:NEG.NFUT cow NEG
 ‘Never, the people of Sarkin Dawa don’t have cows.’ (session_286,
 Babangida Audu, elicitation)

Kam speakers use other response words, but these are not considered proper Kam by speakers. Speakers identify the following responses as Hausa, although they are probably much more widespread than Hausa:

- εε (no associated tone); positive response word
- aʔa (no associated tone); negative response word
- ε↓ (voiceless ingressive ε; can also be other sounds, sometimes *m↓*, a voiceless ingressive bilabial nasal; both eyebrows are raised while inhaling, and the head is tilted lightly backwards for a moment); positive response word
- ɣ (back-released uvular click with closed lips); positive response word (cf. [Lionnet 2020](#))
- ɣɣ (two back-released uvular clicks with closed lips); negative response word

3.2 Negative indefinites

Negative indefinites and negative quantifiers do not exist as separate categories in the language. To express the corresponding meanings, variations of clausal negation constructions are used.

Negative location is encoded by clausal negation and an indefinite noun phrase in the negated clause (70).

(70) m màg nyéb kóm mí Yùròb hñ.
 1SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT NEG.NFUT go:NEG.NFUT **place some** Europe NEG
 ‘I have not been to a\some place in Europe.’, ‘I have been nowhere in Europe.’ or ‘I have not been anywhere in Europe.’ (session_286,
 Babangida Audu, elicitation)

Negative time is expressed by standard negation constructions (71). It can also be expressed by the negative response word *màsīrī* ‘never’ but then it forms an utterance of its own and does not act as an adverbial modifier (§3.1).

- (71) kùrùkí ʔvéǵ hǵ.
 God die NEG
 ‘God does not die.’ or ‘God never dies.’ (whatsapp_01, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

3.3 Negative derivation

I did not find any instances of negative derivation. Equivalent meanings are rendered by negators on the clause level. As exemplified in (53), the equivalent of English negative adjectives (e.g. ‘un-happy’ or ‘un-true’) is expressed by a relative clause using the regular negator *hǵ* (‘a story that is not true’).

Privative constructions, are expressed by clausal negation constructions, negating a clause with a comitative prepositional phrase (72).

- (72) à cúǵ áʔnyág rá nyǐm hǵ.
 2SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT do:NEG.NFUT work COM 1SG.IDP NEG
 ‘You did not work with me.’ or ‘You worked without me.’ (session_354, Rahab Garba Precious, elicitation)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

The scope of negation over noun phrases can be indicated by cleft constructions. Cleft constructions indicate focus in Kam, including contrastive focus (Lesage 2020: 375–378). In (73), the patient (‘fish’) is in focus, which in a pragmatically unmarked clause would follow the verb. The cleft construction moves the patient into a focus position at the beginning of the utterance. In (74), the agent role (‘the man’) is brought into focus with a cleft construction.

- (73) àtábí á ʔnyí ʔván á cúǵ hǵ, núng á.
 fish REL person male PROX catch NEG bird PRST
 ‘It is not a fish that the man caught, it is a bird.’ (lit. ‘It is a fish that the man did not catch, it is a bird.’ (2023-01-31, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (74) ànyí ʔván á ʔmíná cúǵ ètábí hǵ, ànyà gbàn á, ú cúǵ
 person male REL like.this catch fish NEG person female PRST 3SG catch
 àtábí.
 fish
 ‘It is not the man who caught the fish, it is the woman, she caught the fish.’ (2023-01-31, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

In my data and elicitation attempts, I found no way to restrict the scope of negation to a verb or to tense or aspect markers in a simple clause. I also did not detect a differences in prosodic prominence or intonation that could mark the scope of negation.

In complex sentences involving subordinate clauses, the main clause and dependent clause can be negated separately, or both clauses can be negated simultaneously. In all cases, the standard negator *hñ* is placed just once at the end of the complete sentence. As such, it does not disambiguate which of the clauses is negated. Non-clause-final markers and constructional asymmetries for different tense-aspect combinations may, then, indicate the scope of negation (cf. §2.1). In (75), for example, the matrix clause ('I don't know.') is negative and the subordinated clause ('He will come.') is affirmative. That the matrix clause is negated is apparent from the negative subject pronoun (*m̃* '1SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT'). That the dependent clause is affirmative is apparent from the future construction with the reduplicated verb *pá'pári*, which only marks future tense in affirmative clauses.

- (75) *m̃* *màsí kô ú pá'pári hñ.*
 1SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT know COMP 3SG FUT~come NEG.
 'I don't know if he will come.' (session_286, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

§2.1.3 describes the optional preverbal non-future negator *màg*. In complex constructions, *màg* may acquire a disambiguating function. Since both affirmative perfective and negative non-future verb forms are marked by a replacive H tone, and the clause-final negator *hñ* does not indicate whether just one or both clauses are negative, (76) is in principle ambiguous between having an affirmative matrix clause ('He said that he will not come.') or a negative matrix clause ('He did not say that he will not come.').

- (76) *àwú béní* *íyí* *ʼrá* *ʼpá* *ré*
àwú bèn\H-i *íyí^L-í^L* *rá^L* *pè\H* *rè*
 3SG say\PFV-QUOT QUOT-LOG NEG.FUT come\NEG.NFUT NEG.FUT
 3SG say\NEG.NFUT-QUOT QUOT-LOG NEG.FUT come\NEG.NFUT NEG.FUT
hñ.
hñ
 NEG
 NEG
 'He said that he will not come.' or 'He did not say that he will not come.'
 (session_286, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

To resolve this ambiguity, the marker *màg* can be used to mark that the matrix clause is negative. (77) shows *màg* in a disambiguating position. In (77), where *màg* is used, the main clause is negated. In (78), where *màg* is absent, the main clause is not negated. Note also that the clause-final perfective marker *à* in (78) indicates that the subordinated clause is affirmative, since *à* does not occur under negation (cf. §2.1.3). The absence of *à* in the subordinate clause in (77) signals that it is negative.

- (77) àwú **màg** lèg íyí jénéréytòr sámr á yī hñ .
 3SG **NEG.NFUT** hear QUOT generator spoil:PFV **PFV** stand **NEG**
 ‘He did not hear that the generator had exploded.’ (session_286, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (78) ní dóg jénéréytòr sámrí yí hñ.
 1SG.SBJ.PFV see:PFV generator **spoil:NEG.NFUT** stand **NEG**
 ‘I saw that the generator had not exploded.’ (session_286, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

When the scope of negation is restricted to a relative clause, the negator is enclosed in the relative clause and is followed by the clause-final relativizer *à* (see §2.4).

4.2 Negative polarity

The discontinuative marker or adverb *nàng* (see §2.6.2) has an unclear meaning elsewhere in the language and can be considered a negative polarity item, since it is not a negator by itself but only occurs in negative contexts. Elsewhere, *nàng* only occurs as part of the adverb *nàngkò* ‘first’. More research is needed to understand whether it occurs anywhere else.

The conditional conjunction *sīkā* ‘if not/lest’ (§2.4) carries inherently negative meaning. The clauses it connects are not negated with standard negation, however. As such, it is not a typical negative polarity item, but could be considered related to negative polarity.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Kam noun phrases do not behave differently under negation. Information structure has not yet been studied in detail, so it is possible that special constructions or restrictions will be discovered in the future.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Not all negative markers are fully obligatory in Kam. In negative future tense constructions, for example, there is an optional negative marker *rə* that comes right before the clause final negator *hən* (see §2.1.2). In negative non-future tense constructions, there is an optional pre-verbal negator *məg* (see §2.1.3), which can also be used to indicate the scope of negation in a complex clause (see §4.1). It is not clear whether these markers can also be used to reinforce negation or whether they have other information structural functions. Information structure and emphasis are not yet well understood in Kam (see Lesage 2020: 375–386). More research is needed to understand how negation may be reinforced.

§3.1 mentions the emphatic negative response word *məsīrī* ‘never’, which reinforces negative answers.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Negation in complex clauses is similar to negation in simple clauses. The clause-final negator *hən* comes at the end of the complex sentence and the other markers of negation (negative pronouns, pre-verbal negators, replacive tone, post-verbal markers) mark negation in the constituent clauses. Examples (75) to (78) above illustrate how negation works in complex sentences.

The constituent clauses in a complex sentence may be ambiguous between an affirmative and a negative reading. This happens in perfective object-having clauses without 1SG or 2SG subject pronouns that do not have the optional preverbal negator *məg*. The replacive tone on the verb for both an affirmative perfective clause and a negative nonfuture clause is H, so it does not allow disambiguation. (79) is an elicited example and does not contain enough context to disambiguate between different readings for the main clause.

- (79) àwú bəní íyí ʔrə ʔpə rə hən.
 àwú bən\H-i íyí^L-í^L rə^L pə\H rə hən
 3SG say\PFV-QUOT QUOT-LOG NEG.FUT come\NEG.FUT NEG.FUT NEG
 3SG say\NEG.NFUT-QUOT QUOT-LOG NEG.FUT come\NEG.FUT NEG.FUT NEG
 ‘He said that he will not come.’ or ‘He did not say that he will not come.’
 (session_286, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

The current data does not contain examples of coordinated clauses in which only the first clause is negative or in which both clauses are negative. Coordination typically involves parataxis and in some cases the coordinators *àmā* ‘and/but’

and *kō* ‘or’, both borrowed from Hausa. In all cases, the constituent clauses behave identically to other clauses in Kam. There do not appear to be any special negative coordinators or coordination-specific negation constructions.

Sometimes, the syntactic scope of negation is narrower than its semantic reach. What happens in Kam is related to the phenomenon that has been called Negative Transport(ation) or Neg-raising: negation on one level of a complex clause is ‘transported’ or ‘raised’ to another level of the clause (Horn 2001: 312–313). In (80), the negation within the relative clause semantically targets the whole sentence rather than just the relative clause. The intended meaning is ‘We do not want bad things to happen.’, where the negation semantically covers the verb ‘want’. The literal interpretation of the sentence, however, is that ‘We want what is not bad.’

- (80) *ì wúrá ʼsámrí hò à.*
 1PL want:PFV:REL bad NEG REL
 ‘We don’t want something bad (‘that which is bad’).’ (lit. ‘We want what is not bad.’) (session_051, Isa Sarkin Dawa, narrative)

(81), like (79) above, illustrates how negators in Kam are often not syntactically bound to one level of a complex clause. In isolation, (81) would be ambiguous. It is not clear which of the clauses is negated or whether they are both negated. However, the context provides enough information to decide that the reading is not ‘we **don’t** want that blood does **not** drip on the ground’. In principle, the clause remains ambiguous between ‘we **don’t** want that blood drips on the ground’ and ‘we want that blood does **not** drip on the ground’.

- (81) *ì wúrí ká bá wò nyár ábí à rè*
 ì wūrī\H ká bá wò nyàr\H àbí à rè
 1PL want\NEG.NFUT TEMP REL blood drip\PFV ground REL EMPH
 1PL want\PFV TEMP REL blood drip\NEG.NFUT ground REL EMPH
 (1PL want\NEG.NFUT TEMP REL blood drip\NEG.NFUT ground REL EMPH
 hò.
 hò
 NEG
 NEG
 NEG)

‘We don’t want that blood drips down.’ or ‘We want that blood does not drip down.’ (free translation: ‘We don’t want there to be bloodshed.’; in isolation this could also mean ‘We don’t want there not to be bloodshed.’) (session_191, Isa Sarkin Dawa, narrative)

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation follows the normal rules of negation in the language. No different behavior has been observed. (82) features the regular negative possession construction, for example (§2.3.2)

- (82) Àúdú sìrí rǎ cǐ càr rǐg. àwú dǎ rǎ cǐ ñnár.
 Audu be.NEG COM child three NEG 3SG be COM child four
 ‘Audu doesn’t have three children. He has four children.’ (session_287, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

4.6.2 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

There is an *intensity construction* in Kam that involves the standard negator *hñ* but is emphatically affirmative instead of negative. It features a partially reduplicated form of the verb that is followed by the final vowel *-i*.¹⁰ The verb receives a replacive HM tone. I only found this construction in elicited data so far. Its functions are not well understood and require more consideration in a larger corpus of natural language use. The construction can be schematized as in (83). See examples (84–86).

- (83) Intensity constructions
 NP + ~V\HM-i + hñ
- (84) ànggwóg á ‘tíntām-ī hñ .
 ànggwóg à tám~tám\HM-i hñ
 house PROX INTS~grow\INTS-FV NEG
 ‘The house is very big.’ (not ‘The house is not big’) (session_071, Isa Sarkin Dawa, elicitation)
- (85) ànyìvǎn á dùb hñ, àmā, àwú dúddūb-ī hñ .
 ànyìvǎn ā dùb hñ àmā àwú dùb~dùb\HM-i hñ
 man PROX be.tall NEG but 3SG INTS~be.tall\INTS-FV NEG
 ‘This man is not (just) tall, but he is very tall.’ (session_287, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

¹⁰Such reduplicated forms of verbs also occur in affirmative (but not negative) future constructions without an object (see §2.1.2 above) and in the perfective forms of some verbs expressing bodily functions (e.g. *gúg’gúrí* ‘vomits’, *kpi’kpíri* ‘coughs’). See Lesage (2020: 266–268).

- (86) ànggwóg mō ā díddāg-ī hñ .
 ànggwóg á^Lmō à dág~dág\HM-i hñ
 house good PROX INTS~cold\INTS-FV NEG
 ‘The good house is very cold.’ (not ‘The good house is not cold.’)
 (session_342, Isa Sarkin Dawa, elicitation)

At least two possible diachronic scenarios may explain the structure of this construction.

The negator *hñ* may have originally been an intensity marker that was used with other negators in the clause (for example, the optional pre-verbal negator *māg* discussed in §2.1.3). The marker *hñ* could then, over time, have acquired a negative meaning. The intensity construction may be a rare instance preserving an earlier non-negative meaning which may have been something like ‘really, truly, absolutely’. This scenario would be an example of the Jespersen Cycle, observed in many other languages, where intensifying markers evolve into negation markers over time (e.g. Jespersen 1917, Dahl 1979, van der Auwera 2009).

This construction could also derive from an ironic negative construction where a negative clause was used to express an emphatically affirmative proposition. This ironic negative construction could then have grammaticalized into an emphatic affirmative construction and lost its negative meaning altogether. See Shmelev (2016) on the conventionalization of irony and other pragmatic effects.¹¹

I did not encounter other instances of expletive negation. Complex sentences have sometimes been difficult to elicit, however. And relevant constructions may be fairly rare in the Kam corpus. Future research may uncover more data relevant to this topic.

5 Conclusion

Tone plays a role in negative marking in declarative verbal negation constructions. Different tones on 1SG and 2SG subject pronouns (Table 2) as well as on lexical verbs (Table 3) signal different tense, aspect, and negation values.

The eight segmental markers and one copula involved in negation in simple clauses in Kam are summarized in Table 4 according to the position they occupy in a clause. Optional markers are written between brackets.

¹¹See also the Lingtyp discussion on Ironic negative constructions in January 2020 at <http://listserv.linguistlist.org/pipermail/lingtyp/2020-January/007568.html>.

Table 2: Negative and affirmative pronouns

Tense/aspect value		Positive polarity	Negative polarity
Non-future	Perfective	H (1sg: $\tilde{N}$, 2sg: $\acute{a}$)	L (1sg: $\tilde{N}$, 2sg: $\grave{a}$)
	Imperfective	L (1sg: $\tilde{N}$, 2sg: $\grave{a}$)	
	Future	H (1sg: $\tilde{N}$, 2sg: $\acute{a}$)	

Table 3: Replacive tone on verbs

Tense/aspect value		Positive polarity	Negative polarity	
			with object	without object
Non-future	Perfective	H	H	lexical tone ($\emptyset$)
	Imperfective	Lexical tone ($\emptyset$)	H	lexical tone ($\emptyset$)
Future		Lexical tone + ^L	H	H

HC: @LSP
please check
this Table 4

Table 4: Negative markers in Kam

Slot	Clause-initial	Pre-verbal	Verb or copula	After OBJ and multi-verb constructions	Clause-final	After negator
non-future	Subject 1SG: $\tilde{N}$; 2SG: $\acute{a}$	($m\acute{a}g$)	with OBJ: VB\H without OBJ: VB	-	$h\tilde{n}$	$k\tilde{a}$ (conditional) $y\tilde{i}$ (question)
future	Subject 1SG: $\tilde{N}$; 2SG: $\acute{a}$	$r\acute{a}^L$	VB\H	($r\acute{a}$)	$h\tilde{n}$	
imperative	2PL: $ny\tilde{o}$ or nothing	$k\acute{o}$	VB	-	$g\acute{a}$	
nondum		Either: (1) a negative non-future clause, or (2) an affirmative declarative clause			$j\tilde{e}n$	
existential	Subject	-	$s\tilde{i}r\acute{i}$	-	$r\acute{i}g$	

Other relevant markers, not included in Table 4, are the negative conditional and apprehensive conjunction $s\tilde{i}k\tilde{a}$ ‘lest’ (§2.4) and $m\tilde{?}m$ and $o\tilde{?}o$, the negative response words (§3.1).

Acknowledgments

I gratefully acknowledge the financial support of the AdaGram project financed by the “Emergence(s)” programme of the city of Paris. I am also thankful to the workshop organizers and the participants of the workshop that lead to this volume for their interest in my work and for their valuable feedback. The editors of the volume and two anonymous reviewers provided feedback that made this chapter stronger. I wish to thank them for their support. I also want to thank Héloïse Calame for the helpful final checks and for her patience.

Abbreviations

1	first person	M	mid tone
2	second person	N	homorganic nasal
3	third person	NEG	negator
ADJZ	adjectivizer	NFUT	non-future
ADVZ	adverbializer	NDUM	nondum
COM	comitative	NP	noun phrase
COMP	complementizer	OBJ	object
COND	conditional	PFV	perfective
DISCNT	discontinuative	PL	plural
EMPH	emphasis	POSS	possessive
EXP	experiential	PRED	predicative
FUT	future	PROX	proximal
FV	final vowel	PRST	presentative
H	high tone	Q	question marker
IDP	independent pronoun	QUOT	quotative
IMP	imperative	REL	relativizer
INS	instrumental	SBJ	subject
INTS	intense	SG	singular
IPFV	imperfective	STAMP	subject, tense, aspect, mood, polarity
^L	floating low tone	TEMP	temporal
L	low tone	V	verb
LOG	logophoric pronoun		

Special characters

↓	downstep
-	affix boundary
#	potential pause
()	optional
.	gloss boundary but no morpheme boundary
...	omitted text from example
:	composed of multiple morphemes but not segmented in this example
\	replacive tone in gloss
~	reduplication in gloss
∅	not marked

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Negation in Northwest Gbaya

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In Northwest Gbaya there is a single dedicated negative marker *ná* NEG which is reconstructed in Proto-Gbaya. It is a verbal marker placed after the verb, in the very last position of the verb phrase. For standard negation, negative verbal constructions are symmetric in Realis mood, as the negator is simply added with no changes, but there is a paradigmatic asymmetry as perfective forms are blocked in the negative. The paradigm of Imperfective forms is narrowed to three forms. In the virtual mood, both perfective and imperfective forms carry the negator, but these paradigms are narrowed to the two neutral forms. Attributive verbal predication can be negated but it is not frequent. In command mood, the construction is the same as in Realis mood, but there are two new forms dedicated to negative commands (vetitive and prohibitive). All non-verbal predications (identificational, locative, existential and presentative) add the potential verb *be* ‘can be’ when negated. This potential verb carries the negator which is placed clause finally. Finally, there is a constituent negator to negate any element except a predicate.

Keywords: negation, verbal predication, non-verbal predication, Niger-Congo, Gbaya.

1 Introduction

Northwest Gbaya (ISO: **gya**, Glottocode: **nort2775**) is part of the main linguistic group Gbaya-Mandja-Ngbaka, an Ubangian language family (a branch of the Niger-Congo phylum, Adamawa Ubangi). It is spoken in the northwest of the Central African Republic (CAR) and in the central-eastern part of Cameroon. It is subdivided in six dialects: four in CAR [bòdòè, bòkpàn, bònìnà, fùgù], usually named Gbaya-Kara, and two in Cameroon [bòyà and yàáyùwèè]. In 1996, there were 265 000 speakers: 200 000 in the western part of CAR and 65 000 in the central-eastern part of Cameroon. This paper, which deals with the Gbáyá Bòdòè, a Northwest Gbaya dialect spoken in the Central African Republic, is based on a corpus of spontaneous speech collected in the field between 1970 and 2013. The statistics are drawn from my current 4.5-hour oral corpus.

Gbaya is the mother-tongue of all the inhabitants of the region under study. It is used in the home and for all interactions of the daily life. Most of the men and women can speak Sango, the national and official language of CAR, but it is not used in everyday life. They can also speak some Fulfulde when meeting Mbororo people (nomadic cattle-herders, a subgroup of Fulani ethnic group). So Gbaya is mainly a spoken language, even if there is a bible translation in Yaayuwée.

Gbaya verbs are always the expression of a process since there are no verbs of quality. Verbs have no lexical tones, thus tones on the verb are grammatical elements. Depending on the Aspect-Mood (AM) constructions, the verb attests a bare form *VB* and two bound forms *VB_i* and *VB_a*, which will be simply glossed *VB* in the word for word examples. The Gbaya verbal paradigm consists of 21 constructions whose semantic (or conceptual) domain is structured on two axes, mood and aspect (AM). Verbs do not indicate temporal reference. There are three moods (Realis, Virtual and Command) and two aspects (Perfective and Imperfective). The AM constructions are complex forms including a tonal scheme. Most often these forms go in pair combining an imperfective form and a perfective form, depending on the chosen perspective. Furthermore, some AM constructions (in italics in Table 1) are linked forms that identify the clause they predicate as a subordinate clause without any subordinate conjunction.

In the glosses, the name of conjugated forms (AM constructions) are most often compound nouns, the mention of the aspect being systematically added for all those which have an aspectual opposition (PROG.IPFV, PROG.PFV, VRT.IPFV, VRT.PFV, etc.). Only the neutral forms of Realis mood are reduced to the mention of the aspect (IPFV and PFV), whereas the mention of the aspect is not indicated for those which have only one aspectual form (KNOW, HYPO, CONS, INCH). Additionally, note that TAM is sometimes marked by tone only, either on the verb, or both on the verb and preceding personal pronoun.

Table 1: The 21 AM categories of verbal paradigm in affirmative clauses

Moods ↓	AM constructions ↓		Aspects ↓	
	Names	Glosses	IPFV	PFV
Realis	Neutral	∅	^H VB	^{LH} VBa ^H
	Progressive	PROG	<i>bítí</i> - ^L VB	<i>bònáá</i> -{ ^L VB... ~ ^{LH} VB <i>i</i> }
	Inchoative	INCH	<i>bítí</i> -(<i>mé</i>)- ^L VB	
	Known	KNOWN		^L VB
	Permanent	PERM	<i>bàá</i> - ^L VB	
	<i>Temporal condition</i>	COND	^H VB ^L VB	^H VB <i>téé</i> - ^L VB
	<i>Hypothetical</i>	HYPO		<i>né</i> - ^{LH} VBa ^H
	<i>Consecutive</i>	CONS		<i>né</i> - ^L VB
Virtual	Neutral	VRT	<i>té</i> - ^L VB	<i>téé</i> - ^L VB
	Imminent	IMN	<i>dé</i> - <i>mé</i> - ^L VB	<i>dèè</i> - <i>mé</i> - ^L VB
	<i>Contingent</i>	CTG	<i>mé</i> - ^L VB	<i>mé</i> - <i>téé</i> - ^L VB
Command	Neutral	IJT	PERS.L ^H VB	PERS ^L ^L VB
	Imperative	IMP	[PERS = ∅] ^H VB	[PERS = ∅] ^L VB

In addition to these AM markers placed before and on the verbal base (VB),¹ the verb may have other optional markers which are placed in strict order after the verb. Among these, the negative morpheme is always in the very last position of the verb phrase in clause final position, eventually being followed only by some sentence particles, adverbs and interrogatives, as mentioned earlier.

Gbaya is an isolating language with very little morphology and no agreement at all. The word order is very strict. It is an SVO language, which also makes use of non-verbal predication. It has verbs, non-verbal predicates, nouns and four categories of adjectives. The verbal system is organized in three moods (Realis, Virtual and Command) and two aspects (Perfective and Imperfective) (see [Roulon 1975](#), [Roulon-Doko 1993](#)). Verbs always express a process where the obligatory subject is either external to the process (transitive construction = transitive voice) or included in the process (intransitive construction = middle voice). It is a tonal language with two levels and four tones. The high tone can mark grammatical distinctions (functioning as a supra-segmental marker, TM in the glosses). It occurs between various elements. When it occurs between two elements, it modifies the tonal melody of the first element. How the tones are realized depends on the tone of the second element. Gbaya phonology has 3 glottalized consonants, 3 labio-velars and a complete range of nasals and semi-nasals; it has nasal vowels too.

¹To keep the preverbal position of the TAM markers and the associated tonal pattern, instead of a VB\LH-a^H notation I chose the ^{LH}VBa^H notation.

The paper is organized according to Miestamo and Veselinova's questionnaire (Miestamo 2025). In §2, I present clausal negation first in verbal clauses, then in non-verbal clauses. In §3, I focus on non-clausal negation including negative replies and a discontinuous negation. §4, I address pragmatic phenomena and specific devices used in connection with negation. A summary follows in §5.

2 Clausal negation

Gbaya has a single dedicated negative marker, the morpheme *ná* (NEG). It was reconstructed in Proto-Gbaya showing its great stability throughout the Gbaya-Manza-Ngbaka group (Moñino 1995). This negative morpheme is a verbal marker. It is always placed after the verb, in the very last position of the verb phrase, and after all the complements and adverbs following the verb, if there are any. This clause-final position may be shared with some other morphemes that can follow the negative morpheme *ná* in strict order, as (i) two adverbs, a restrictive one and an additive one (cf. §4.4), (ii) sentence particles which manifest the attitude of the speaker towards the utterance and the addressee, and in the last position, (iii) some interrogative particles (cf. §4.5). This brief characterization is given here just to put into perspective the clause-final position of the negative morpheme. There are different constructions used to express negation according to the type of clause: verbal clause opposed to non-verbal clause.

2.1 Standard negation

2.1.1 Negation in Realis mood

In the realis mood, aspect serves to differentiate between a non-delimited process for the imperfective and a delimited process for the perfective. These perfective AM categories (PFV) cannot be negated, the verb must be in an imperfective form to be negated. So there is asymmetry in the paradigm as all perfective forms are blocked in the negative. Furthermore, only two imperfective forms can be negated (the Neutral and the Permanent), the others (Progressive, Inchoative, Temporal condition) are only used in affirmative clauses. The negative marker is simply added to a corresponding affirmative construction and placed in clause final position. So in both cases the constructions are symmetric.

The neutral Realis imperfective is the most frequent form, attested in 48,8% of all the Realis AM of my corpus. As the perfective form is blocked, the negative clause (1) corresponds to both the imperfective and perfective forms that the speaker can use in affirmative as (2) and (3) to express his point of view. Such a

choice is not possible in negative clauses, the opposition perfective / imperfective is neutralized. The structure of the negative clause (1) is symmetric to the corresponding imperfective positive construction (2) and the negative marker *ná* is simply added in clause final position.

- (1) Nàá-ngòdĩ bá sóyó kóí ná
 PN IPFV:take seat of:LOG.SG NEG
 ‘Naa-ngòdĩ does not take her seat.’
- (2) ʔèé Nàá-ngòdĩ bá sóyó kóí
 and:TM PN IPFV:take seat of:LOG.SG
 ‘Then Naa-ngòdĩ takes her seat [and sits down on the side of the road].’
- (3) [Context: The speaker has convinced the man to enter her house.]
 ká Nàá-ngòdĩ bàà sóyó kóí
 then PN PFV:take:TM seat of:LOG.SG
 ‘Then Naa-ngòdĩ takes her seat [and they enter the house].’

For verbs in intransitive construction as *gasi* ‘grow’ the English translation as a verb of quality can be misleading. Such verbs also refer to a process and their perfective forms expresses the result of the process that can be a quality (4). This is especially the case of verbs from which verbal adjectives derive and whose resultative process corresponds to a quality. These verbs can be negated, but when they are negated they still refer to processes (5). They are not stative verbs. Stative constructions would be expressed with the stative verb *ʔa* ‘be’, or with constructions without any dedicated predicate (see §2.3.2).

- (4) sààyé hẹ̀ gàsá
 village PROX PFV:grow
 ‘This village is big.’ (lit. ‘has grown’)
- (5) sààyé hẹ̀ gásí ná
 village PROX IPFV:grow NEG
 ‘This village is not big.’ (lit. ‘has not grown’)

The Permanent which has only an imperfective form can be negated without any change. The permanence of the process meaning “always having” for the affirmative value (6) becomes “never having” for the negative value (7). Of limited use because of its very specific meaning, it has 0,1% of occurrences in my corpus, that is 7 occurrences of which only one with the negator.

- (6) ʔéí bàá-kò kéí ʔó bóíbémaaà
 LOG.SG PERM-want as_for:LOG.SG PL boy:DEF
 'He always wanted boys.'
- (7) ʔéí bàá-kò kéí ʔó bóíbémaaà ná
 LOG.SG PERM-want as_for:LOG.SG PL boy:DEF NEG
 'He never wanted boys.'

Within the linked AM forms of Realis mood, only the Hypothetical can be negated. As, in the affirmative, Hypothetical 'HYPO' $né^{-LH}vba^H$ is always a perfective form (process is considered as delimited) (8), there is no corresponding imperfective form to carry the negative morpheme. However, it is possible to hypothesise a negated process and for this purpose a special form is created $né^{-L}vb$ (9). This form reuses the form of the Consecutive, highlighting a usual practice in Gbaya syntax: one form used with different meanings in two mutually exclusive contexts. I call this special form Hypothetical negative 'HYPO.NEG'. This form could fill the empty place of imperfective form of the Hypothetical in Table 1. However, as it is only attested in negative clauses, it cannot be opposed to the perfective form in affirmative and is therefore only mentioned in Table 2. In my corpus, the Hypothetical negative has 4 occurrences i.e. 0,06%, while in affirmative clauses the Hypothetical has 44 occurrences i.e. 0,6%. Both therefore represent 0,66% of all AM forms.

- (8) kàà né-kòám
 when:3SG HYPO-want:1SG
 'If he loves me [let him get a dowry to marry me].'
- (9) [Context: The two girls ask him to marry them.]
 ʔá kòmè né-kò ná
 and_now when:2SG HYPO.NEG-want NEG
 'And if you do not want (= love us) [choose the one you love]'

To sum up, in Realis mood, constructions are symmetric as the negator is simply added with no changes. All perfective forms are blocked in the negative and so there is a paradigmatic asymmetry. Moreover the paradigm of imperfective forms which can carry the negative morpheme is narrowed to three forms, the neutral form being the most frequent. They represent 91,3% of all negative predications in my corpus (see Table 3).

2.1.2 Negation in Virtual mood

Virtual mood in Gbaya contrasts with Realis by encoding, for example, plans or possibilities. In this mood, aspect distinguishes between events that may be realized (possible) using imperfective forms (11) or will not be realized (irrealis) using perfective forms (13). Both can be negated just by adding the negative morpheme at the end of clause. So in both cases the constructions are symmetric.

Only the neutral form of Virtual is attested in negative clauses. The other forms (Imminent and Contingent as mentioned in Table 1) are not possible because of their semantic nature. The Imminent focuses on the short time frame leading up to the action. The Contingent is a linked form expressing the process as a final purpose or a possibility to be taken into account. Both the Imminent and the Contingent are only used in affirmative clauses. In Virtual mood the paradigm of negative forms are narrowed to the two neutral forms, imperfective (10) and perfective (12).

- (10) ʔéí té-fè ná
LOG.SG VRT.IPFV-die NEG
'He will not die.'
- (11) ʔéí té-fè kóí ʔín ʔá yè
LOG.SG VRT.IPFV-die for:LOG.SG COM:TM 3SG finally
'As for him, he finally will die with her.'
- (12) Wàntò tèé-kpà mà mbùl ná
PN VRT.PFV-find INDF spider_web NEG
'[If it hadn't been like that] Wanto would not find some spider web.'
- (13) ʔám tèé-kpà kàà wí ʔèém néné
1sg VRT.PFV-find RPT-ADD person help:NMLZ:1SG going
'[If possible] I would find someone to go with me.'

To sum up, in Virtual mood, both imperfective and perfective AM categories can carry the negative morpheme but the paradigm is narrowed to neutral perfective and imperfective forms. They represent 4,8% of all negative predications in my corpus.

2.1.3 Negation in serial verb constructions

In serial verb constructions (SVC) the negative morpheme is always attached to the first conjugated serialized verb. The second serialized verb has an infinitive

form. There are three forms of Infinitive: an imperfective ‘INF.IPFV’, a perfective ‘INF.PFV’ and a virtual ‘INF.VRT’. Most often SVCs are affirmative clauses. In my corpus, SVCs that carry negation can have any verb as first serialized verb when the second serialized verb has a perfective infinitive form (14). But when the second serialized verb has a imperfective infinitive form, only the modal verbs *kɔ́* ‘want’ is attested in the corpus as first serialized verb (15). Finally when the second serialized verb has a virtual infinitive form, only the verbs *kɔ́* ‘want’ and *ɲem* ‘be suitable to’ are attested as first serialized verb in the corpus (16), as summarized in Table 2. While in such affirmative SVCs the first serialized verb can have an imperfective or a perfective Realis form, in the negative counterpart only the neutral imperfective is attested on this verb that falls under the scope of the negation.

Table 2: Types of verbs in negative SVCs

VB ₁ + IPFV	VB ₂ +			in final position
	INF.PFV	INF.IPFV	INF.VRT	
any verb	x	∅	∅	+ <i>ná</i> NEG
<i>kɔ́</i> ‘want’	x	x	x	+ <i>ná</i> NEG
<i>ɲem</i> ‘be suitable to’	x	∅	x	+ <i>ná</i> NEG

- (14) sósɔ́ hɛ ʔá né zók pér ná
 today here 3SG IPFV:go INF.PFV:see trap NEG
 ‘Today he is not going to visit his traps.’

- (15) ʔá kɔ́ gí gbòlò wó ná
 3SG IPFV:want INF.IPFV:cook Corchorus really NEG
 V1 V2
 ‘She really does not want to cook gooey leaves.’

- (16) ʔám kɔ́ mó-tɔ́ tò ná
 1SG IPFV:want INF.VRT-say tale NEG
 ‘I do not want to tell a tale.’

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

In Command mood, the impact of aspect expresses a command that can be realized or not in the imperfective forms, and a performative command, considered

as already realized, in the perfective forms. As for Realis mood, all perfective forms are blocked in the negative.

Within imperfective command forms, only the impersonal form i.e. the Imperative can be negated by adding the negative morpheme at the end of the clause without any change (17–18). The construction is symmetric. Such a form is common after a vocative.

- (17) ʔó nókó húí yíkné ná
 POL maternal_uncle IMP:open eye:2POL NEG
 ‘Uncle, do not open your eyes.’

- (18) húí yíkné
 IMP.IPFV:open eye:2POL
 ‘Open your eyes.’

But most often, there are two new forms dedicated to negative commands: the Vetitive or Injunctive negative (IJT.NEG) and a stronger form, the Prohibitive (PROH).

The Vetitive, constructed in the same way as all the personal forms of Command mood, is carried both by the verbal base and the personal pronoun that precedes it. The verbal base has a low tonal scheme as the Injunctive perfective, and the personal pronoun has a low tonal scheme as for both Injunctive forms to which is added a vowel with an identical vocal quality and a high tone: PERS^L[^HV] ^HVB (19). This construction is the most common one to express a negative command. It corresponds, in the affirmative, to the Injunctive imperfective (20), but the constructions are not symmetric. The vetitive is glossed Injunctive negative ‘IJT.NEG’.

- (19) wòóyèé mèé hèi kòá ná
 no 2SG:IJT.NEG IJT.NEG:pour tears NEG
 ‘No, do not cry.’

- (20) mè héi kòá
 2SG:IJT IJT.IPFV:pour tears
 ‘Cry.’

The Prohibitive uses the verb *yak* ‘leave’ as an auxiliary verb. It is followed by either the temporal coordinative *ká* ‘then’ (21), or by the noun *tè* ‘entity, body’ (22) carrying the high tone of the tonal marker *tè^H*, or the quality noun *tí* ‘identity, front’. This term (*ká*, *tè^H* or *tí*) precedes the verb which has the low tonal scheme

[^LVB] and is regularly in a non finite form used for any verb in complex forms and for the nominalization of a verb within a nominal phrase (23). Prohibitive has then three variants: (i) *yak-ká-^LVB*, (ii) *yak-té^H-^LVB* and (iii) *yak-tí-^LVB* which are equivalent. The auxiliary verb is attested with four AM markers: a high tonal scheme for IMP.IPFV, IJT.IPFV, and a low tonal scheme for IJT.NEG.

- (21) *yák-ká-tò wèn ná*
IMP.IPFV-PROH-say speech NEG
'You must not say anything.'
- (22) *ʔàm yák-té-kùr ná*
1SG:IJT IJT.IPFV-PROH-get_up NEG
'I must not get up.'
- (23) [Context: The squirrel pretends to be ill and commands the lion not to disturb him.]
ʔèněé yàk-ká-sǒm géè ná
2POL:IJT.NEG IJT.NEG-PROH-disturb:1SG needlessly NEG
'You must not disturb me for no reason.'

To sum up, in Command mood, as in Realis mood, only imperfective forms can be negated, all the perfective forms are blocked. For Imperative-imperfective, the negative construction is symmetric, but most often two new forms dedicated to negative command, the Vetitive and the Prohibitive are used within non symmetric constructions. All these forms represent 3,9% of all negative predications in my corpus.

In the case of negation in an interrogative sentence, where the question marker *ndé* is always placed at the absolute end of the sentence, the negation morpheme *ná* is positioned at the end of the clause, just before the question marker, as illustrated in §4.6.4 (see 100–101).

To sum up this presentation of AM categories in verbal clauses, Table 3 shows the negative counterpart of AM categories for affirmative clauses shown in Table 1. The specialized forms dedicated to carry negation are in bold in Table 3.

Table 3: The 7 AM categories of verbal paradigm in negatives clauses

Moods ↓	AM forms ↓		IPFV	PFV	frequency
Realis	Neutral	∅	^H VB		91,3%
	Permanent	PERM	<i>báá^{-L}</i> VB		
	Hypothetical negative	HYPO.NEG	<i>né^{-L}</i> VB		
Virtual	Neutral	VRT	<i>té^{-L}</i> VB	<i>té^{-L}</i> VB	4,8%
Command	Imperative	IMP	[PERS = ∅] ^H VB		3,9%
	Injunctive negative	IJT.NEG	PERS ^L [^H V] ^H VB		
	Prohibitive negative	PROH	<i>yak</i> -{ <i>ká</i> ~ <i>té^H</i> ~ <i>tí</i> }- ^L VB		

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Gbaya stative predications are divided into several types presented below. They include Identificational, Locative, Existential and Presentative predications, which have a dedicated term each, see §2.3.1. Possessive, Similative, Qualitative, Adverbial and Numeral predications are encoded by juxtaposition with no dedicated predicates. Adding the potential verb to carry the negative morpheme is the dedicated negative construction common to all non-verbal clauses. They represent a quarter of all negated clauses in my corpus, see §2.3.2. Predication of property is also encoded by clauses where the copular element is a position verb, see §2.3.3. The negation of each of these is discussed in the respective sections.

2.3.1 Clauses with a non-verbal predicate

There are four clauses whose predicate is a non-verbal term: Identificational, Locative, Existential and Presentative.

Table 4: Negation of clauses with a non-verbal predicate

Predications	in affirmative clauses	in negative clauses	with a non-verbal predicate
Identificational	[NP] <i>né</i> NP	[NP] <i>bé né</i> NP <i>ná</i>	<i>né</i> ID
Presentatives	NP <i>ʔáá</i>	NP <i>bé ʔáá ná</i>	<i>ʔáá</i> PRST-LOC
	NP <i>ʔá-híí</i>	NP <i>bé ʔá-híí á</i>	<i>ʔá-híí</i> PRST-CONS
Locative	NP <i>ʔá</i> locative NP	NP <i>bé</i> ∅ locative NP <i>ná</i>	<i>ʔá</i> LOC
Existential	NP <i>ʔá-séné</i>	NP <i>bé</i> ∅ <i>ná</i>	<i>ʔá-séné</i> EX

In affirmative clauses, Identificational predication uses a dedicated predicate: the identifier *né* ‘ID’ that most often links two noun-phrases within a three-constituent clause NP *né* NP (24). It can also sometimes be reduced to a two-

constituent clause *né* NP that refers to an impersonal construction, often in response to (26). For the negation of this construction, the potential verb *be* ‘can be’ is placed just before the identifier and the negation morpheme is placed, like in verbal predications, clause-finally (25, 27).

- (24) mé né bêm
2SG ID child
‘You are a child.’
- (25) mé bé né bêm ná
2SG IPFV:can_be ID child NEG
‘You are not a child.’
- (26) né tùà kóm
ID house of:1SG
‘It’s my house.’
- (27) bé né tùà kóm ná
IPFV:can_be ID house of:1SG NEG
‘It’s not my house.’

Among the presentatives which are placed after the term they present (28), only two of them, the locative ‘be here’ ?áà PRST.LOC and the consecutive ‘be like that’ ?á-hĩĩ PRST.CONS are attested in a negative clause. The anaphoric locative ‘be thus’ ?áĩ PRST.ANAPH is not attested with the negator. For the negation of these constructions, the potential verb *be* ‘can be’ is placed just before the presentatives and the negation morpheme is placed, like in verbal predications, clause-finally, in the same way as for the identifier (29–31).

- (28) bêm ?áà
child PRST.LOC
‘Here is the child.’
- (29) bêm bé ?áà ná
child IPFV:can_be PRST.LOC NEG
‘The child is not there.’
- (30) wí héí mós-?ò ?ĩn bé ?áà ná
person to:LOG.SG CTG.IPFV-lay COM IPFV:can_be PRST.LOC NEG
‘Someone you can sleep with cannot be this one here.’

- (31) wèi kéi ndè péi ʔínà bé
 husband of.LOG.SG REL.LOG.SG IPFV:revenir COM.TM.3SG IPFV:can_be
 ʔáhǎ ná yè
 PRST.CONS NEG finally
 ‘My husband, with whom I have returned, cannot be like that after all.’

In affirmative clauses, Locative predication uses a dedicated predicate: the locative predicate *ʔá* ‘LOC’ to introduce a noun-phrase referring to a location (32). For the negation of this construction, the potential verb *be* ‘can be’ replaces the locative predicate *ʔá* ‘LOC’ and the negative morpheme is, like in verbal predications, placed clause-finally (33).

- (32) b́éi ʔá kútùà
 people LOC house
 ‘People are in the house.’
- (33) b́éi bé kútùà ná
 people IPFV:can_be house NEG
 ‘People are not in the house.’

In affirmative clauses, the dedicated predicate to express existential is a compound term: *ʔá-sènέ* (LOC-inside) literally ‘is inside’, which follows the NP (34). For the negation of this construction, the potential verb *be* replaces the existential predicate as it does for the locative predicate (35). Then the negative morpheme is placed, like in verbal predications, clause-finally.

- (34) wèn ʔásènέ
 word EX
 ‘There is a problem.’
- (35) wèn bé ná
 word IPFV:can_be NEG
 ‘There is no problem.’

2.3.2 Clauses with no dedicated predicate

In Gbaya the mere juxtaposition of two specific constituents carries predication. The first constituent is always a NP, and the second one is either a prepositional noun phrase or a simple term. These constructions express various predications such as Possessive (36), Similitive, Qualitative, Numeral predications. For the

negation of these constructions, the potential verb *be* ‘can be’ is placed between the two constituents and carries the negative morpheme which is placed clause-finally in a way that is comparable to what happens with the locative predicate and the existential predicate which disappear in the negative statement. In addition, adverbial predication, which has only one constituent that functions as a predicate, is negated in the same way, the potential verb being placed before the adverb and the negative morpheme after it. The potential verb which is added in all these clauses is negated by standard negation, see Table 5.

Table 5: Negation of clauses with no dedicated predicate

Predications	in affirmative clauses	in negative clauses	with preposition
Possessive	NP <i>nè</i> NP	NP <i>bé nè</i> NP <i>ná</i>	<i>nè</i> ‘with’
Attributive	NP <i>nè</i> ADJ. MNLZ	NP <i>bé nè</i> ADJ. MNLZ <i>ná</i>	<i>nè</i> ‘as’
Similative	NP <i>hé mää gá</i>	NP <i>bé hé mää gá ná</i>	<i>hé... gá</i> ‘like’
Numeral	NP NUM	NP <i>bé</i> NUM <i>ná</i>	∅
Adverbial	ADV	<i>bé</i> ADV <i>ná</i>	∅

In Possessive, Similative and Attributive clauses the second constituent is a prepositional noun phrase as in the examples below. Possessive clauses are common (36–38).

- (36) [Context: He is trying to find out if anyone has goats in the village.
Somebody warns him.]
Sìngà nè dùà
PN with goat
‘Singa has goats.’
- (37) Sìngà bé nè dùà ná
PN IPFV:can_be with goat NEG
‘Singa has no goats.’
- (38) té mà ngìmbi ʔám bé nè tùà ná
by:TM INDF time 1SG IPFV:can_be with house NEG
‘At that time I didn’t have a house.’

Attribution is a domain most often used affirmatively (40, 42) and very little negatively (39, 41). Attributive clauses are not frequent. In this construction the adjectives are nominalized and introduced by the preposition *nè* ‘as’. I give two

example, one with a verbal adjective *dúrá* ‘long’ and one with an adjective *tór* ‘raw’.

- (39) wánjá hẹ́ bé nè dúráà ná
 leave PROX IPFV:can_be as long:NMLZ NEG
 ‘This leaf is not long.’

- (40) wánjá hẹ́ nè dúráà
 leaf PROX as long:NMLZ
 ‘This leave is long.’

- (41) sàdī hẹ́ bé nè tóràà ná
 animal PROX IPFV:can_be as raw:NMLZ NEG
 ‘This meat is not raw.’

- (42) sàdī hẹ́ nè tóràà
 animal PROX as raw:NMLZ
 ‘This meat is raw.’

Similative clauses code similarity between two constituents, the second one being surrounded by the discontinuous similative preposition *hé...gá* ‘SIMV... SIMV’ (44). For the negative construction, only similative clauses where the second constituent is the reciprocal pronoun *màá* ‘RECP’ that express a comparison of equality are attested (43).

- (43) yíkwà bé hé màá gá ná
 face:TM:3PL IPFV:can_be SIMV RECP SIMV NEG
 ‘Their faces are not the same.’ (lit. ‘not like one to the other’)

- (44) yíkwà hé màá gá fét
 face:TM:3PL SIMV RECP SIMV all
 ‘Their faces are exactly the same.’ (lit. ‘like one to the other’)

In Numeral clauses the second constituent is always a numeral (46, 48), the negative construction are common (45, 47).

- (45) tòyó bé náár ná
 dog IPFV:can_be four NEG
 ‘The dogs are not four.’

- (46) tòyó náár
dog four
'The dogs are four.'
- (47) bêm kɔ̀à bé tààr ná
child of:3SG IPFV:can_be three NEG
'He doesn't have three children.' (lit. 'his children are not three')
- (48) bêm kɔ̀à tààr
child of:3SG three
'He has three children.' (lit. 'his children are three')

There are only a few adverbs that have a predicative use, either as the second element in a juxtapositive construction, or alone in a holophrastic use. Most of these adverbs in a predicative function are found in affirmative constructions, and some in interrogative constructions. Only the adverb *hɔ̀gɔ̀* 'like this' is observed with negation in my corpus (49–50). This adverb is very commonly found negated.

- (49) bé hɔ̀gɔ̀ ná
IPFV:can_be like_that NEG
'It is not like that.'
- (50) hɔ̀gɔ̀
like_that
'It is like that.'

To sum up, except the locative predicate *ʔá* and the existential predicate *ʔá-sɛné* which are removed and replaced by the potential verb, in all other cases, the potential verb is added and placed before the non-verbal predicate, or between the two constituents of a juxtapositive construction, or surrounding the adverb *hɔ̀gɔ̀*. In all cases the negative morpheme is placed clause finally and the potential verb is negated by standard negation. So adding the potential verb to carry the negative morpheme is the dedicated negative construction for non-verbal clauses.

2.3.3 Attributive verbal predication

Gbaya reuses the verb *ʔo* 'stand, lay' to use adjectives in a predicative function. In this function, *ʔo* is the stative verb 'be'. This verb can carry the negative morpheme in the same way as all the processive verbs, but such negative clauses are rather rare (51).

- (51) Nàná ?ó dèngbèng ná
 PN IPFV:be slow NEG
 ‘The river Nana does not flow slowly.’ (lit. ‘is not slow’)

Negative morpheme is simply added to the corresponding affirmative clause (52), as in the example below about the belly of an animal after being cooked (53).

- (52) zàṇjáà ?ó ɓòl-ɓòl
 belly:TM:3SG IPFV:be soft
 ‘Its belly is soft.’ (= ‘fully cooked’)

- (53) zàṇjáà ?ó ɓòl-ɓòl ná
 belly:TM:3SG IPFV:be soft NEG
 ‘Its belly is not soft.’ (= ‘not cooked enough’)

To sum up, Attributive verbal predications constructed with the verb ?ó ‘be’ introducing an adjective can be negated, but it is not frequent. Commonly, properties that correspond to a resultative process can be supported by verbs that are negated in the same way as all verbs (cf. §2.1.1).

2.4 Negation in non-main-clauses

The subordinate clauses (SC) introduced by a conjunction can be negated by standard negation but the possibility of negation of the SC depends on the position of the SC in front of or behind the main clause.

When a SC is in front of the main clause it can be negated by standard negation (54). The negative morpheme is placed in final position of the SC and the main clause follows it.

- (54) kòmè ?ó nù ná kómé Wàntò kàdà ?é
 when:2SG IPFV:lay ground NEG then:2SG PN PFV:finish:TM yet
 ‘If you don’t lie down then it will be the end of you, Wanto.’

But when a SC is behind the main clause, the negative morpheme which is placed clause-finally at the very end of the sentence always refers to the verb of the main clause, the SC cannot be negated (55).

- (55) ?éí jém kèi ?á yù ?ín fòrò ná
 LOG.SG IPFV:be_able so_that:LOGS IPFV:put race COM:TM elephant NEG
 ‘He is not able to race with the elephant.’

- (56) ʔám ʔínj kóm mà mò há mój-dè sɛn
 1SG IPFV:know as_for:1SG INDF thing so-as-to CTG.IPFV-do in:TM
 ʔòyáà ná
 remainder:DEF NEG
 ‘Personally, I don’t know what I will do to correct this mistake.’
- (57) ʔám gbé sàfi há kòò kóm ɲój ná
 1SG IPFV:kill animal so-as-to wife of:1SG IPFV:eat NEG
 ‘I did not kill any animal to feed my wife.’

Purpose SC as (56) and (57) above, which is placed behind the main clause, can be negated by changing the conjunction. To introduce a negative purpose clause, there is a new conjunction specific to negation *tá ~ té* ‘so as not to’ or ‘lest’ that replaces the conjunction *há* ‘so-as-to’ of the affirmative counterpart. In this use, the negative morpheme *ná* which is placed clause-finally at the very end of the sentence always and refers to the verb of the SC, is optional. Most often the negative morpheme is absent (59), and its presence is redundant with the negative purpose conjunction (58).

- (58) ʔà bón nù ʔínàm hɛ táà
 3SG IPFV:remain ground COM:TM:1SG here so_as_not_to:3SG
 sí ná
 IPFV:go_away NEG
 ‘She stays here with me so that she does not leave.’
- (59) wà hùpà nánwà tá kórò ɲmáwá
 3PL PFV:detach:TM foot.3PL so_as_not_to rain IPFV.hit.3PL
 ‘They hurried so that the rain did not get them wet.’

The linked AM forms that create dependence without any conjunction do not accept negation except for the Hypothetical form. The negative hypothetical clause is always placed in front of the main clause as it has been presented (cf. (8) and (9)).

A relative clause (RC) which, in Gbaya, is always introduced by the relative marker *nè* REL, can be negated. As for any subordinate clause it depends on the position of the RC within the main clause. When the noun that the RC modifies is the subject of the main verb, the RC is placed in front of the main clause verb and the negative morpheme is placed at the end of the RC. The RC is negated by standard negation (60). Most often the antecedent of the relative marker is the subject of the main clause verb, but it may also be a topicalized term placed before the verb of the main clause (61).

- (60) mà làà nè ndótí ná ʔó zéngbé-zéngbé
 INDF garment REL IPFV:thicken NEG IPFV:be fragile
 ‘A garment which is not thick is fragile.’ [antecedent = subject]
- (61) ndàyá mò nè dila zéi gér yérè náíí ʔá-nàm
 bottom:TM thing REL lion IPFV:hear voice buffalo NEG:ANAPH TOP:1SG:TM
 dé-mé-tò
 IMN-IPFV-say
 ‘The reason why the lion does not hear the voice of the buffalo I am about to say.’ [antecedent = topicalized object]

But when the noun the RC modifies is placed behind the verb of the main clause, as for any SC in the same position, the negative morpheme placed at the very end of the sentence refers to the verb of the main clause (62–64).

- (62) ʔà ʔín fàrà nàá yàkà sí sèné ná ʔòé
 3SG IPFV:know place REL:3SG PFV:leave:TM INF.PFV:go inside NEG too
 ‘He does not even know in which place he went.’
- (63) ʔám zéi wèn kómé nèmè tóíí ná
 1SG IPFV:hear speech of:2SG REL:2SG:TM IPFV:say:ANAPH NEG
 ‘I do not understand what you are saying.’
- (64) ʔám ʔín tí mò nè dém ná
 1SG IPFV:know identity thing REL IPFV:do:1SG NEG
 ‘I do not know what is happening to me.’

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

There are two verbs, *mbosi* ‘be absent, be missing’ (68) and *ndanj* ‘miss, lack’ (66) (in relation to the numeral *ndáj* ‘one’) that express the lack. They can, however, be negated by standard negation (65, 67).

- (65) sàdì ndán ná
 animal IPFV:miss NEG
 ‘[After checking] No game is missing.’
- (66) kàféè ndàngám mó tútùyè
 coffee PFV:miss:TM:1SG in morning
 ‘I do not get coffee this morning.’

- (67) yák-té-mbòsì mé m̀òó-sá ná
 IMP.PFV-PROH-be_absent in tomorrow NEG
 ‘You must not be absent tomorrow.’
- (68) wàn-yé mbòsá
 chief PFV:be_absent
 ‘The village chief is absent.’

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

To express impossibility, Gbaya has a complex clause. The main clause with the potential verb *be* ‘can be’ is followed by a subordinate clause introduced by the conjunction *kà* ‘so that’ expressing a consequence (55). The negative morpheme is put clause finally. In such constructions, the two clauses have the same subject that is mentioned before each verb and the potential verb has always a Realis neutral imperfective form: S_1 *bé* *kà* S_1 VB *ná* (69–71).

- (69) ʔám bé kàm né ná
 1SG IPFV:can_be so_that:1SG IPFV:go NEG
 ‘I cannot go.’
- (70) ʔéé bé kèè bá wèi ná
 2PL IPFV:can_be so_that:2PL IPFV:take husband NEG
 ‘We cannot get married.’
- (71) ʔà bé kàà yák ná
 3SG IPFV:can_be so_that:3SG IPFV:leave NEG
 ‘He can’t leave.’

Sometimes, the subject of the main clause is not mentioned in SC, and the construction becomes a set phrase *bé kà* (72). This construction is of infrequent use.

- (72) mé bé kà bá ná
 2SG IPFV:can_be so_that IPFV:take NEG
 ‘You cannot take it.’

It is interesting to point out that unlike Gbaya Bodoë, in Gbaya Yaayuwée, another Northwest Gbaya language, such a set phrase is the only construction used. So in Gbaya Yaayuwée this set phrase has become a verbal marker of impossibility *bé-kà*, which is not the case in Gbaya Bodoë (see Noss 1981).

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Negative replies to polar questions are not related to the negative morpheme *ná*. There are two negative replies: *wòóyèé ~ òóyèé, ʔùúʔù* meaning ‘no’ which are interjections in Gbaya. They correspond to the affirmative replies *ʔù ~ ʔùú, hù* meaning ‘yes’. In response to a question, these negative replies always disagree with the content of the question and never to its polarity.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

There are no negative indefinites and quantifiers in Gbaya. To say ‘nobody’ (73) or ‘nothing’ (74) Gbaya uses the nouns *béi* ‘person’ and *mò* ‘thing’ in a negative clause, most often with the indefinite determiner *mà*.

- (73) *béi té ná*
 person IPFV:come NEG
 ‘Nobody comes.’

- (74) *mà mò bé kútùà hẹ ná*
 INDF thing IPFV:can_be house PROX NEG
 ‘There is nothing in this house.’

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

No negative derivation is attested in Gbaya which has very little derivation but very productive compounding. There is no adposition ‘without’ either, but there are a lot of adjectives-adverbs (AA) to express lack. These AA are original terms corresponding to derived terms in other languages: *béngéé* ‘ineffective, without result’; *wálasáyá* ‘without stopping’, *fàù-fàù* ‘nonstop’, *kpáká-kpáká* ‘thoughtless, without thinking’, *dók-dók* ‘speechless’, etc. This way of expressing lack takes in account a lot of contexts as for example ‘noiseless’: *ʔíyóó* (standing or walking), *yòkòkò-yòkòkò* (specific to the way you put your foot on the ground), *gédéén* (gait of an animal), *yékét* (quiet), *yélélé* (acting slowly). So negative meaning expressing lack is lexicalized into specific AAs. Verbal expressions of absence are discussed in §2.5.

There is also a new conjunction specific to negation *tá ~ té* ‘so as not to’ or ‘lest’ that replaces the conjunction *hà* ‘so as to’ of the affirmative counterparts (see §2.4).

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

In clausal negation the predicate is always in the scope of negation whether it is the verb of the clause (see §2.1 and §2.2) or the potential verb for non-verbal predications (see §2.3.1 and §2.3.2).

To narrow the scope of negation to a specific constituent, Gbaya creates a discontinuous negation that reuses the potential verb *be* ‘can be’ into a fixed set where this verb has no longer any predicative function. In this construction, the potential verb which has an Imperative imperfective form carrying the polar tone of insistence modality *bée* [$\emptyset^H$ *be*.INS] is in clause-initial position and the negative morpheme is in clause-final position. This construction *bée... ná* which surrounds the clause and which can target any element except the predicate functions as a constituent negator. This discontinuous negation objects to something else but not to the content of the verb, whatever is the AM form of the verb in the clause. Depending on the context, the constituent in the scope of this negation is most often an adverb (75–76), an oblique object (77–78), a way to point out, in case of a the verb in Realis neutral perfective, that is delimited process has to be put in perspective (79), or an element topicalized or focalized (80–81).

- (75) *bée* ʔà ʔɪjá m̀ fét ná
 NEG 3SG PFV:know:TM thing all NEG
 ‘She does not know everything.’ (lit. ‘She knows things but not all.’)

- (76) *bée* ʔám té-nè bí mbàbì fèrè ná
 NEG 1SG VRT.IPFV-go INF.PFV:play dice near NEG
 ‘I will go play dice not nearby.’

- (77) *nè bée* Wàntò gbòó tè già zǎŋ-bée ná wó
 SO NEG PN PFV:go_out:TM in:TM hunting bush NEG really
 ‘So Wanto went in the bush but not really to hunt.’

- (78) *nè bée* ʔéí tèt kéí wèn wà ná
 SO NEG LOG.SG PFV:come:TM as_for:LOG.SG because_of:TM 3PL NEG
 ‘So he came not for them.’

- (79) ʔá Kàpá-tà bée jèpá ná
 and_now PN NEG PFV:be_distant NEG
 ‘And [the mount] Kapa-ta is not very far away.’ (lit. ‘is far away but not very far away’)

- (80) *bée màrá mò mó ʔè ʔám tèé-zòk ná*
 NEG sort:TM thing APPOS this_one 1SG VRT.PFV-see NEG
 ‘[If I was gone], such a thing I will not have seen.’

When the topicalized term is a modified noun as in (81), *bée* is repeated surrounding the topic and *ná* placed clause finally while a personal pronoun (*téwà*) fills the empty place (note that there is another variant for *mòj*: *mò ʔá*).

- (81) *bée dilà ndèè té ʔín hẹ bée mà mòj*
 NEG lion REL:1PL:TM IPFV:COME COM here NEG INDF thing:LOC
téwà ná
 body:TM:3POL NEG
 ‘The lion I come here with is unable to do something.’ (lit. ‘there is nothing in himself’)

In addition, I want to mention the role that perfective forms that are blocked in the negative play in some cases to relate the negation to another verb. The treatment in §2.4 explains that when a negative morpheme is placed at the end of a sentence, it is linked to the verb of the main clause if the main clause appears before a subordinate or relative clause. However, this linkage is blocked if the verb of the main clause is in the realis perfective, as this form cannot support negation. In such cases, if a relative clause follows the main clause, the negation at the end of the sentence will instead apply to the verb of the relative clause (82). Another case of incompatibility between perfective and negation is observed between coordinated clauses sharing the subject of the first clause, the negation at the end of the second clause cannot apply to its verb if that verb is in the realis perfective. Therefore, the negation will be related to the verb of the first clause (83).

- (82) *ʔéné zòkà béí yàrà yíitòó nè kàm bír ná*
 2PL PFV:see:TM person day two REL cassava_dough IPFV:pass NEG
 ‘Have you ever seen somebody who had no food for two days.’
- (83) *mà béí mbíí kùtí mò séká pìì gúá*
 INDF person IPFV:sweep first:TM thing and_then PFV:throw:TM firewood
nù ná
 ground NEG
 ‘Nobody sweeps the place and then throw firewood on the ground.’

4.2 Negative polarity

No negative polarity items have been found in Gbaya.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

The marking of NPs is not affected by negation in Gbaya.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

In a negative clause, unlike all the other adverbs, two adverbs *ʔòé* ~ *ʔòí* ‘also’ and *ʔèá* ‘only’ can be placed right after the negative morpheme. The sequence *ná ʔòé* ‘neither, not also’ (84–85) is more frequent than the sequence *ná ʔèá* ‘not even’ (86–87), but both are well attested in my corpus.

- (84) ʔéí kpá tí sàdî ná ʔòé
IMPS IPFV:find entity:TM animal NEG also
‘There is no game either.’
- (85) mà tórsì bé ná ʔòé wá
INDF electric_torch IPFV:can_be NEG also unfortunately
‘Unfortunately he does not have any flashlight either.’
- (86) mò ndèi ʔín ndàyá mò ná ʔèá
thing REL:LOG.SG IPFV:know bottom:TM thing NEG only
‘Something you do not even know anything about...’
- (87) zòòmí kéí bá kòò héí ná ʔèá
elder_brother of:LOG.SG IPFV:take wife to:LOG.SG NEG only
‘His elder brother didn’t even get a wife for him.’

I will compare the regular order *ʔèá ná* (attested only for *ʔèá*, but impossible for *ʔòé*) to the opposite order *ná ʔèá*, in order to bring out the difference of meanings: *ʔèá ná* (only NEG) means ‘not only’ (88), and *ná ʔèá* (NEG only) means ‘not even’ (86–87).

- (88) ʔàm dé nè tòm kòfè hógó fàà ʔèá ná
1SG IPFV:do CIRC work:TM son-in-law like_that always only NEG
‘I will not keep on doing the son-in-law’s work like that forever.’

Placed after the negative morpheme, the scope of these two adverbs seems to refocus on the negative morpheme and no longer on the verb of the clause.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Only for Purpose subordinate clauses, there is a new conjunction specific to negation *tá ~ té* ‘so as not to’ or ‘lest’ that replaces the conjunction *hà* ‘so-as-to’ of the affirmative counterparts (see §2.4).

4.6 Other aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

In Gbaya, there is no negative transport. When a subordinate clause follows the main clause it cannot be negated (see §2.4).

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

No examples of metalinguistic negation have been found in the data.

4.6.3 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

In an isolating language like Gbaya, the word order is very important and changing the place of an item can lead to give it a new function and a new signification as described in §2.1.1 for the AM forms of Hypothetical-negative and the consecutive. When the negative morpheme *ná* is not placed clause finally, it is reused in two cases becoming (i) a discourse particle or (ii) an element of quantifier adverbs.

(i) There are two contexts where *ná* is a discourse particle, depending on its position in the clause: after a noun or after a verb. First, when the negative morpheme *ná* is no longer placed clause-finally but right after a noun, it becomes a discourse marker that identifies this noun as the addressee (89–90). Doing so, it keeps its negative semantic feature that contributes to the identification of the addressee as not being the person who speaks, but the person to whom something is said. As a discourse marker, *ná* is an affirmative item, ‘ADRE’ in the glosses (see Roulon-Doko 2008).

- (89) wà ná wà dé gìmà kpók kpók kpók
3PL ADRE 3PL:INJ INJ.IPFV:do song one one one
‘They are told to sing one by one.’

- (90) kó kào Dàà mí ná ?ám dúk
then:POL maternal_uncle PN 1SG ADRE 1SG IPFV:stay
‘Then the uncle Dàà told me to stay.’

Secondly, *ná* can be placed after the verbs *zei* ‘hear’ and *zók* ‘see’ in a specific construction of two clauses different from complement clauses which in Gbaya follow the verb as a direct object without any conjunction. In the first clause these verbs are followed by the neutral direct object *mò* ‘thing’ while the second one is a coordinate clause introduced by *ká* ‘then’. In both case *ná* keeps its negative semantic feature that indicates that the content of the next clause it is not directly seen, but is an awareness for the verb *zók* ‘see’ (91), and not directly heard but understood for the verb *zei* ‘hear’.

- (91) [Context: She is with her older sister who takes care of her.]

ʔám zók mò ná kó dàà tèá
 1SG IPFV:see thing DISC then:POL older_sister PFV:come
 ‘I become aware that the older sister comes [to warn me].’

In the next example (92), the first clause is a temporal subordinate and the main clause a coordinate clause. Compare with a clause without *ná* (93).

- (92) [Context: She decides to go to her older sister’s house because her husband is never at home.]

kàm té-zók mò ná wó kàà gbòó nè tútùyè
 when:1SG VRT.IPFV-see thing DISC really then:3SG PFV:go_out in morning
 dònjam
 after:TM:1SG
 ‘When I realize that he has arrived in the morning at home (= behind me).’

- (93) [Context: They all think that the older sister is dead. The family is eating.]

ʔá-nè bé kàýáíí kàà zók mò wó ká
 and_now small eldest:ANAPH when:3SG IPFV:see thing really then
 ʔàá tēíí
 3SG:TOP IPFV:come:ANAPH
 ‘Then, as the eldest child looks up, there she is, coming back.’

I would like to point out that there are some other discourse markers based on the negative morpheme *ná* and the interrogative marker *ndé* that function alike but will not be discussed in this paper.

(ii) There are seven quantifier adverbs that are compound words. All of them include the negative morpheme *ná* as the last element of the compound. The first element of these compound adverbs may be an adverb, a nominal phrase or, only in one case (*ɲém-ná*), a verb which are followed by the negative morpheme, see Table 6.

Table 6: The compound quantifier adverbs

Adverbs	Component stems	Literal meaning	Meaning
<i>gèdĕk-ná ~ dĕk-ná</i>	(a little-NEG)	‘not a little’	‘a lot’, ‘very’
<i>sór-mò-ná</i>	(DIM-thing-NEG)	‘not a very small thing’	‘very little’
<i>zǝm-mò-ná</i>	(AUG.TM-thing-NEG)	‘not that big’	‘very much’
<i>ǰém-ná</i>	(IPFV.suit-NEG)	‘not suitable’	‘very much’, ‘too much’
<i>bé-mò-ná</i>	(small-thing-NEG)	no negative meaning	‘a little’
<i>bé-dàŋ-ná ~ bé-dàŋ</i>	(small-bad-NEG ~ ∅)	no negative meaning	‘a little’
<i>bé-nàŋ-ná ~ bé-nàŋ</i>	(small-?-NEG ~ ∅)	no negative meaning	‘a little’

Most of the forms cited in Table 6 keep a negative semantic feature that contributes to their literal meaning but produces a positive meaning, as already mentioned previously. For three of them the negative semantic feature is no longer understood (94–95) and, in addition, two of these have a variant without the negative morpheme with the same meaning.

- (94) ʔéé dĕé tòmm dĕk-ná
 2PL PFV:do:TM work a_lot
 ‘We worked hard.’

- (95) há kési bé-mò-ná
 so_that IPFV:dry a_little
 ‘[He puts locusts next to the fire] so that they dry a little.’

Using the negative morpheme out of scope of negation as it has been presented, describes a usual device in the Gbaya syntax that highlights an important feature of their conceptualization.

4.6.4 Elements that can follow the negative marker

There are seven sentence particles which, in affirmative as in negative clauses, are placed clause-finally, just after the negative morpheme and the adverbs ʔéá or ʔòé when appropriate (88). These particles show the point of view of the speaker, or of the actor of the event (96–98).

- (96) ʔá tǝ ná wá
 3SG IPFV:say NEG unfortunately
 ‘Unfortunately she does not say anything.’

- (97) mà mò bé kútùà hǐí ná wó
 INDF thing IPFV:can_be house LOC-ANAPH NEG really
 ‘There is really nothing in that house.’

- (98) ʔéí té-dè tùà ná yè
 LOG.SG VRT.IPFV-do house NEG finally
 ‘[Since there is a cave] finally I will not build a house.’

In negative clauses too, sentence particles can combine like they usually do in affirmative clauses (99).

- (99) sàdǐ mó ʔè ʔéné ɲón ná ʔòé wó yè
 animal APPOS this_one 2PL IPFV:eat NEG also really indeed
 ‘Indeed, this animal you do not actually eat either.’

The interrogative marker *ndé* glossed ‘Q’ is always at the last position of a clause, nothing can follow it. In negative clauses too, it is placed after the negative morpheme and put at the last position, clause-finally (100–101). For negative interrogatives, see §2.2.

- (100) ʔéné zókàà ná ndé
 2PL IPFV:see:3SG NEG Q
 ‘Have you not seen him?’
- (101) zúà té-gbà ná ndé
 head:TM:3SG VRT.IPFV-split NEG Q
 ‘Would not he have a headache?’

Two other interrogative markers *hé-gè* ‘how’ (102) and *wén-gè* ‘why’ have the same clause final position.

- (102) ʔám té-t̩ bòò ná hé-gè?
 1SG VRT.IPFV-say thus NEG how
 ‘Why would I not say it?’

There are some cases of right detachment when an adjunct is placed outside the boundaries of the clause, that is, after the negative morpheme. It may be an adjective (104), an adverb (103) or a NP that adds *a posteriori* some clarifications to the content of the clause (105). In Gbaya, this is not a device for topicalization (Creissels 2006: 120).

- (103) mé ʔín ʔòó mò ná yòkàì-yòkàì géè
 2SG IPFV:know remainder:TM thing NEG silly simply
 ‘You do not know anything, you are simply silly.’
- (104) ká-nánjáà bá ndîŋ ná pál-pál
 ankle:TM:3SG IPFV:take dirty NEG very_clean
 ‘His ankles are not dirty, they are clean.’
- (105) ʔá gbó kɔ̀à zân ɓò ná mó-dè tò̀m kó wàn-yé
 SG IPFV:go_out as_for:3SG bush again NEG INF.VRT-do work of chief
 ‘He no longer goes to the bush to work for the chief.’

5 Conclusion

In Gbaya, only verbs can be negated by the negative morpheme *ná*. Most often the constructions are symmetric, but there is a asymmetry in the paradigm in Realis and Command mood, as all perfective forms are blocked in the negative. There are different forms in non-declaratives, i.e. Command mood. In order to negate stative predications, the potential verb *be* ‘can be’ has to be used. There is a constituent negator that negates any element except a predicate. The systematic clause-final position of the negative morpheme and its last position in the verbal phrase characterizes the negation system in Gbaya. Negation strategies in Gbaya are summarized in Table 7.

Table 7: Summary of negative strategies in Gbaya

Negation strategy			Function	Chapter	Examples
negative morphem <i>ná</i> in clause-final position			Realis mood 2 forms (IPFV, PERM)	§2.1.1	(1), (5), (7), (9)
			Virtual mood 2 forms (VRT)	§2.1.2	(10), (12)
			HYPO-NEG	§2.1.2	(9)
			Command mood (IMP-IPFV)	§2.2	(20)
			<i>Vetitive</i> IJT-NEG	§2.2	(22)
			<i>Prohibitive</i> PROH	§2.2	(24), (25), (26)
			Stative verb ʔo (IPFV, VRT)	§2.2	(17), (19)
potential verb <i>be</i> + negative morpheme <i>ná</i> in clause-final position	verb <i>be</i> add to the predicate	nè ID	Identificational	§2.3.1	(28), (30)
		ʔáá PRST-LOC, ʔá-hí PRST-CONS	Presentatives	§2.3.1	(32), (33), (34)
	verb <i>be</i> replace the predicate	ʔá LOC	Locative	§2.3.1	(36)
		ʔá-sèné EX	Existential.	§2.3.1	(38)
	verb <i>be</i> between the two juxtaposed elements	NP nè NP	Possessive	§2.3.2	(40), (41)
		NP nè ADJ.NMLZ	Attributive	§2.3.2	(42), (44)
		NP hé NP gá	Similative	§2.3.2	(46)
		NP NUM	Numeral	§2.3.2	(48), (50)
	holoprastic use	ADV (= hógó)	Adverbial	§2.3.2	(55)
P1 + verb potential <i>be</i> kà P2 + negative morpheme <i>ná</i>			Impossibility	§2.6	(69–72)
fixed set: <i>bée</i> C <i>ná</i>			targeting any constituent (C) except the verb	§4.1	(75–81)
Negative lexicalizations					
<i>mbosi</i>			‘be absent, be missing’	§2.5	(65)
<i>ndaŋ</i>			‘miss, lack’		(67)
conjunction <i>tá</i> ~ <i>te</i>			‘so as not to’ or ‘lest’	§2.4	(58), (59)
<i>wóóyèé</i> ~ <i>ʔóóyèé</i> , <i>ʔuuʔu</i>			negative replies ‘no’	§3.1	

Abbreviations

1	first person	KNOWN	known
2	second person	L	low tone
3	third person	LH	low-high tone
Ø	empty place	LOC	locative
AA	adjective-adverb	LOG	logophoric
ADD	additive	NEG	negation, negative
ADJ	adjective	NMLZ	nominalizer, nominalization
ADRE	addressee	PN	proper name
ADV	adverb	NUM	numeral
AM	aspect-mood	PERM	permanent
ANAPH	anaphoric	PERS	personal pronoun
APPOS	appositive preposition	PFV	perfective
AUG	augmentative	PL	plural
CIRC	circumstantial	POL	polite form
COM	comitative	PROG	progressive
COND	condition	PROH	prohibitive
CONS	consecutive	PROX	proximal
CTG	Contingent	PRST	presentative
DEF	definite	Q	interrogative particle
DIM	diminutive	RC	relative clause
DISC	discourse marker	RECP	reciprocal
EX	existential	REL	relative
H	high tone	RPT	repetitive
HYPO	hypothetical	SC	subordinate clause
ID	identifier	SG	singular
IJT	injunctive	SIMV	similative
IMN	imminent	SVC	serial verb construction
IMP	imperative	TM	tonal marker
IMPS	impersonal pronoun	TOP	topic
INCH	inchoative	V	vowel
INDF	indefinite	VB	verbal base
INF	infinitive	VRT	virtual
IPFV	imperfective		

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Negation in Mankanya

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This chapter investigates into the field of negation in Mankanya, a Bak language (Atlantic group) spoken in Guinea-Bissau, Senegal and Gambia. The analysis follows the framework developed by Miestamo and Veselinova, which allows to study negation from a typological point of view. Like the other Atlantic languages, Mankanya has a very rich verbal morphology, and negation tends to be integrated into the TAM-system. Negation in Mankanya shows two major types of asymmetry: the first one concerns the marking of TAM, and the second concerns the marking of subject. Negation also involves a specific intonation pattern. This chapter provides a systematic study of negation, analysing the correspondences between affirmative and negative clauses, as well as the interaction between TAM and negation.

Keywords: Negation, verbal morphology, Atlantic Bak.

1 The Mankanya language

Mankanya (ISO: **knf-sen**, Glottocode: **mank1251**), is a Bak language from the Atlantic family (Niger-Congo phylum). Originally spoken in Guinea-Bissau, it is nowadays spoken from the north of Guinea-Bissau to the south of Senegal (in Casamance); there are also some large communities around the Senegalese cities of Dakar and Thiès, and in Gambia. In 2016, there were about 50,000 speakers in Guinea-Bissau, and around 85,200 speakers in totality (Eberhard et al. 2019).

The first overview of the Mankanyan grammar has been provided by Trifcovič (1969). Then, Maliman (2005) and Bayèpar (2013) have led phonological and morphological studies. Recently, Gaved (2007, 2015, 2020) produced the most complete analysis on Mankanya, and Montébran (2021) included Mankanya in a comparative study of negation in the Atlantic languages with regard to tense aspect and mood (TAM).

There are two main varieties of Mankanya; this chapter focuses on the Hula variety, named after the city Bula (Guinea-Bissau) where it was originally spoken.

The varieties of Mankanya (Hula and Co) are mutually intelligible; the differences are principally phonological and related to a small amount of lexemes. It is noteworthy that Mankanya has been strongly influenced by the local Portuguese Creole (see Bayèpar 2013 for more details), but also by Mandinka (Mande) and Wolof (Atlantic), depending on the area.

The Mankanya people are mostly farmers, organised in patriarchal families. The huge majority is Christian with some remnant of animism beliefs. The Mankanya people are still strongly attached to their traditions and are governed by a king living in Bula.

Although a written official standard has been set up for Mankanya in Senegal since 2005, the language remains mostly spoken and the majority of speakers do not manage the writing system. Moreover, Mankanya is only used in restricted domains (within the family, but not in the professional life). French is prominent at school, and Wolof is used as a vehicular language in Senegal; English in Gambia and in Guinea-Bissau the vehicular language is the Portuguese Creole. Thus, young people leaving villages for the city to get a job are slowly losing the use of the language. This phenomenon is also accelerated with exogamous marriages.

Mankanya is an agglutinative language. The word order (SVO) is very strict and the modifiers follow the head word. It is a non-tonal language, even if the prosody has an important role including in the TAM system. The verb obligatorily agrees with its subject (the agreement marker is prefixed); if the subject is not a NP, the agreement marker can be the sole subject. As the other Atlantic languages, Mankanya has a very rich and complex verbal morphology. The verbal system includes three moods (indicative, injunctive, and irrealis) and an infinitive form of the verb (marked by a prefix *p-*). Within the indicative mood, the main opposition concerns the perfective and imperfective aspects. These two aspects are mostly distinguished by the intonation pattern. Concerning the tenses: present is unmarked whereas past and future are marked by auxiliaries. The structures of the TAM system massively employ auxiliary verbs, which appear in serial verbs clauses. In these structures, where several verbs are sharing the same subject (typically the auxiliary verb and the main verb) the first verb takes the standard subject agreement marker with the subject, the other verbs have the serial prefix agreement *a-*. These features are listed in Table 1.

To sum-up briefly the finite verbal stem (VB) always has a subject agreement marker (SBJ) prefixed and may have TAM markers suffixed. A pronominal object (OBJ) will be suffixed after the TAM marker and in a few cases, may amalgamate with the TAM marker. In serial verb constructions, the auxiliary has the standard subject agreement prefix and the main verb has the serial subject agreement prefix. The main verb may also have the imperfective prefix. The linear structures

of the main clauses is SBJ-VB-TAM-OBJ. In subordinate clauses, a marker *-uŋ* is suffixed to the verb of the non-main clause.

Negation is marked by a prefix occurring between the subject agreement prefix and the stem of the finite verb in perfective; the linear structure of the clause is SBJ-NEG-VB. In imperfective negative clauses, the aspect is marked by a prefix which appears immediately before the finite verb stem, after the subject agreement marker and the negation marker: SBJ-NEG-IPFV-VB.

Table 1: TAM markers and constructions

Mood	Tense-aspect	Marked by
Indicative	Perfective	Morphologically unmarked, prosody: slightly rising
	Imperfective	Morphologically unmarked, prosody: neutral In serial verb constructions: prefix <i>k-</i> In negative clauses: prefix <i>k-</i>
	Past	Auxiliary verb <i>p-bi</i> + perfective
	Future	One of the three auxiliary verbs (<i>p-bi</i> , <i>p-ia</i> or <i>p-luŋ</i> + imperfective
	Durative	Reduplication of the verbal stem
	Habitual	Auxiliary verb <i>p-ji</i>
	Ingressive	Auxiliary verb <i>p-do</i> + past
Injunctive	Imperative	Suffix <i>-an</i> ~ <i>-ni</i> ~ <i>-n</i>
	Obligative	The copula <i>p-wo</i> ‘be’ followed by a serial verb construction
Irrealis	Conditional	Conjunction <i>wol</i> + auxiliary verb <i>p-šaŋ</i> or the morpheme <i>le</i>

The data¹ used for this chapter have mainly been collected during field trips in Goudomp (Senegal), which took place in 2015, 2016 and 2017, and were especially dedicated to the study of negation². The consultants have been mostly interviewed, following Miestamo’s and Veselinova questionnaire (Miestamo 2025), and Dahl’s TAM questionnaire (Dahl 2000). Some texts have also been collected, but do not reflect the entire negative system. In addition to the elicited data, some

¹In the near future, the collected material will be archived on the platform CorpOrAn (<https://corporan.huma-num.fr/>)

²The examples collected on the field will be mentioned as (Montébran, fieldnotes).

of the examples also come from observed spontaneous speech. Lastly, some examples are also from [Gaved \(2004, 2007, 2020\)](#).

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard Negation

In declarative main clauses, negation is encoded by a verbal prefix -VN-, in which V is a vowel determined by the vowel of the preceding subject agreement marker and N a homorganic nasal consonant³. This prefix appears between the subject agreement marker and the verbal root.

Negation in declarative main clauses shows three types of asymmetries: one concerning the marking of imperfective aspect, a second concerning subject agreement marking for 1SG, and a third concerning the intonation pattern⁴.

In negative clauses, the subject agreement marker for 1SG is the prefix *m-* (glossed 1SG.NEG), whereas in positive clauses the prefix *d-* occurs. The vowel of the negation marker is determined by the vowel of the subject agreement marker, which may on the surface appear as a long vowel: 2SG has an agreement marker *i-*, the negation marker will be *-iN-*; 3SG and the serial marker (occurring in verbal serial constructions keeping the same subject for all verbs of the series) have an agreement marker *a-*, the negation marker will be *-aN-*. 2PL and 3PL have an agreement marker ending with the vowel *a*, the negation marker will also be *-aN-*. If the subject agreement marker does not end with a vowel (1SG and 1PL), the negation marker is *-əN-*.

Concerning the subject agreement marker, it is noteworthy to add that 1SG, 2SG, 3SG, 1PL, 2PL, 3PL, refer to human subjects. For non-human 3SG and 3PL, the agreement marker is based on the nominal classifier, which may already end with a vowel (*a* for the classes 1, 1a, 3, 4, 5 or *u* for class 2) but if it ends with a consonant (classes 6, 7, 8, 9 and 10), a vowel *a* will be added. Therefore, the negation marker will be *-aN-* or *-uN-*. These features are summarized in Table 2.

The asymmetry concerning the marking of the imperfective aspect, can be explained as follows: in positive clauses perfective and imperfective are morphologically unmarked and are prosodically distinguished. But in negative sentences,

³The homorganic nasal consonant is articulated following the consonant that it is followed by: m before m, p, b; n before n, t, d; ŋ before k, g etc.

⁴Asymmetries concerning the TAM are entering into the category A/Cat/TAM and asymmetries concerning person marking into the category A/Cat/PNG in [Miestamo's](#) (2005) terminology

Table 2: Subject agreement marking and negation

	Positive subject agreement marker	Negative subject agreement marker followed by the negation marker
1SG	d-	m-əN-
2SG	i-	i-iN-
3SG	a-	a-aN-
3SG non-human	CLF-(a)	CLF-(a)-a/uN-
1PL	ŋ-	ŋ-əN-
2PL	na-	na-aN-
3PL	ba-	ba-aN-
3PL non-human	CLF-(a)	CLF-(a)-a/uN-
Serial	a-	a-aN-

both perfective and imperfective have the same intonation pattern (a specific negative one) and the distinction between both aspects is morphological: a prefix *k-* occurs for imperfective, whereas perfective remains morphologically unmarked.

The linear structure of the minimal perfective clause is *SBJ-VB*,⁵ with a slightly rising intonation pattern. In negative perfective clauses, the subject agreement marker is followed by the negation prefix *-VN-*. The subject agreement marker for 1SG changes to *m-* under negation. The linear structure of the clause is *SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-VB*. Negative perfective clauses are also marked by a specific intonation pattern (rising and falling, stressing the negation morpheme). Thus, negation of perfective presents A/Cat/PNG asymmetry restricted to 1SG as well as an asymmetry in the intonation pattern. Examples (1–4) show the positive-negative opposition for perfective.

- (1) d-de taakal.
 1SG-eat yesterday
 ‘I ate yesterday.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

⁵It is noteworthy to add concerning the perfective positive main clauses, that if an intransitive verb occurs without any complement (including time or locative adverbs for example) in prepausal positions (typically before the end of the clause or of the sentence), a completive suffix *-i* occurs systematically on the verbal stem (for more details, see Gaved 2020: 80).

- (2) d-de-i.
1SG-eat-COMPL
'I ate.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (3) m-ən-de taakal.
1SG.NEG-NEG-eat yesterday
'I did not eat yesterday.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (4) m-ən-de-i.
1SG.NEG-NEG-eat-COMPL
'I did not eat.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

In simple declarative main clauses, the imperfective aspect is morphologically unmarked and has a neutral intonation pattern. The structure of the imperfective clause is SBJ-VB. The negation morpheme is the prefix *-VN-* and the specific negative intonation pattern (rising and falling, stressing the negation morpheme) also arises in negative imperfective clauses; thus intonation does not distinguish imperfective and perfective in negative clauses. The 1SG subject agreement marker also changes from *d-* (in positive sentences) to *m-* (in negative sentences). Negative imperfective clauses are systematically morphologically marked for aspect by the morpheme *k-* occurring immediately before the verb root. The linear structure of the clause is SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-IPFV-VB. Since the negation morpheme always precedes the prefix *k-* and contains a homorganic nasal N, it systematically appears as a *-Vŋ-*. Thus, negation of imperfective present A/Cat/TAM, A/Cat/PNG (restricted to 1SG) and intonational asymmetries. Examples (5) and (6) show the positive-negative opposition for imperfective.

- (5) d-de.
1SG-eat
'I eat.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (6) m-əŋ-k-de.
1SG.NEG-NEG-IPFV-eat
'I do not eat.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

To sum up briefly, the negation of both aspects perfective and imperfective uses the same negation morpheme, the prefix *-VN-*. The negation of perfective shows two types of constructional asymmetry: A/Cat/PNG for 1SG and the intonation pattern; and the negation of imperfective exhibits three types of constructional asymmetry: A/Cat/PNG for 1SG, A/Cat/TAM and the intonation pattern.

Both of these aspects show patterns which will occur in the majority of the other indicative paradigms.

Past tense is marked by a periphrastic construction employing the auxiliary verb *p-bi* ‘come’ followed by the perfective aspect, such as in example (7). The structure of the clause is SBJ-PST VB. In these clauses, the main verb does not agree with the subject (only the auxiliary does). In past negative clauses, the standard negation morpheme is prefixed to the auxiliary. The structure of the negative clause is SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-PST VB, with the same asymmetries as in perfective negative, such as in example (8).

- (7) a-bi ləmp.
 3SG-PST work
 ‘He worked.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (8) a-am-bi ləmp.
 3SG-NEG-PST work
 ‘He did not work.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

Mankanya has three future tenses, all periphrastic constructions, using one of the following auxiliary verbs *p-ia* ‘go’ (immediate future), *p-bi* ‘come’ (probability or possibility in the future) or *p-luŋ* ‘swing’ (assertive future). These periphrastic constructions are serial and the main verb is morphologically marked for imperfective by the prefix *k-* followed by a serial subject agreement marker *a-*. The structure of the clause is SBJ-FUT IPFV-SER-VB. Future tenses are negated by the standard negation morpheme, associated to the negative intonation pattern. Since the finite verb is the auxiliary, it takes the negation marker and the imperfective prefix. The structure of a negative future clause is SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-IPFV-FUT IPFV-SER-VB. Thus, in the negation of future, the same asymmetries show up as in imperfective negative. Examples (9–14) show the positive-negative opposition for the three future paradigms.

- (9) d-ia k-a-ləmp.
 1SG-FUT IPFV-SER-work
 ‘I will work (this afternoon).’ (Montébran, fieldnotes).
- (10) m-əŋ-k-ia k-a-ləmp.
 1SG.NEG-NEG-IPFV-FUT IPFV-SER-work
 ‘I will not work (this afternoon).’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

- (11) d-bi k-a-ləmp.
1SG-FUT IPFV-SER-work
'I will work (probably).' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (12) m-əŋ-k-bi k-a-ləmp.
1SG.NEG-NEG-IPFV-FUT IPFV-SER-work
'I will not work (probably).' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (13) d-luŋ k-a-ləmp.
1SG-FUT IPFV-SER-work
'I will work (certainly).' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (14) m-əŋ-k-luŋ k-a-ləmp.
1SG.NEG-NEG-IPFV-FUT IPFV-SER-work
'I will not work (certainly).' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

Durative is characterized by the reduplication of the verb, following the structure SBJ-VB-VB, such as in example (15). The negative counterpart has the following structure SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-IPFV-VB-VB, and shows the same asymmetries as in imperfective negative, such as in example (16).

- (15) a-ləmp-ləmp.
3SG-work-work
'He is working.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (16) m-əŋ-k-ləmp-ləmp.
1SG.NEG-NEG-IPFV-work-work
'I am not working.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

The habitual is a periphrastic construction, marked by the auxiliary verb *p-ji* 'say', but the grammaticalisation process is not complete: not only the auxiliary but also the main verb has a subject agreement prefix. However, this agreement marker has specific features depending on the person (for details see Gaved 2020: 178–179). Table 3 sums-up the subject agreement marker in habitual.

The habitual follows the structure SBJ-HAB SBJ.HAB-VB. The negative counterpart has the following structure SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-HAB SBJ.HAB-VB; the same asymmetries show up as in perfective negative. Examples (17) and (18) show the positive-negative opposition for habitual.

- (17) d-ji ka-ləmp.
1SG-HAB 1SG.HAB-work
'I usually work.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

Table 3: Subject agreement marker for habitual

Subject type	Subject agreement marker	
	on the auxiliary	on the main verb
Human 1SG	standard	prefix <i>ka-</i>
Human 2SG	standard	prefix <i>k-</i>
Human 3SG	standard	zero prefix
Human plural (1PL, 2PL or 3PL)	standard	standard
Non-human (SG and PL)	standard	standard

- (18) *m-ən-ji ka-ləmp.*
 1SG.NEG-NEG-HAB 1SG.HAB-work
 ‘I do not work usually.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

The meaning of ‘not yet’ is the negative counterpart of the ingressive construction (marked by the auxiliary *p-do* ‘do’ and the past tense marker *bi*. Again, only the auxiliary verb agrees with the subject), it uses the standard negation morpheme. The structure of the clause is SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-INGR PST VB. In this negation, the same asymmetries appear as in perfective negative, see examples (19) and (20).

- (19) *ba-do bi ləmp.*
 3PL-INGR PST work
 ‘They already have worked.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (20) *ba-an-do bi ləmp.*
 3PL-NEG-INGR PST work
 ‘They have not worked yet.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

2.2 Negation in non-declarative clauses

2.2.1 Prohibitive

For the second and third persons (singular and plural) the verb is marked by a suffix *-an* (*-n* or *-ni*, depending on the structure of the verbal stem). The second person singular has a zero subject agreement marker, whereas the other persons present the regular subject agreement marker. The linear order of the clause is SBJ-VB-IMP. For the first person plural, the verb does not have the imperative suffix, the construction is unmarked SBJ-VB.

There are two types of prohibitive clauses in Mankanya. The first one is periphrastic, employing the imperative form of the negative auxiliary *p-wut* ‘leave’ followed by the main verb marked for imperfective and prefixed by the serial subject marker. This construction is used by older speakers, or in formal speech. Examples (21–25) show the positive-negative opposition for imperative and formal prohibitive.

- (21) $\emptyset$ -tan-an!
2SG-tie-IMP
‘Tie!’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (22) η -tan!
1PL-tie
‘Let us tie!’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (23) na-tan-an!
2PL-tie-IMP
‘You tie!’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (24) $\emptyset$ -wut-an k-a-de wa!
2SG-leave-IMP IPFV-SER-eat CLF.3.SG.OBJ
‘Do not eat it!’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (25) na-wut-an k-a-de wa!
2PL-leave-IMP IPFV-SER-eat CLF.3.SG.OBJ
‘Do not eat it!’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

The second prohibitive construction, used in common speech, has a structure SBJ-IPFV-VB, see examples (26–28). This construction appears (also from the speakers’ point of view) as a shortened form of the periphrastic prohibitive. There is no overt negative marker in this clause.

- (26) $\emptyset$ -k-tan!
2SG-IPFV-tie
‘Do not tie!’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (27) na-k-tan!
2PL-IPFV-tie
‘Do not tie!’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

- (28) ba-k-tan!
 3PL-IPFV-tie
 ‘Do not let them tie!’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

To sum-up about the prohibitive: a specific negation morpheme occurs (the prohibitive auxiliary *p-wut* ‘leave’), and since the same person-number distinctions are made in the prohibitive and the positive imperative, there is no paradigmatic asymmetry. The main verb loses in finiteness with the introduction of a new finite element.

There is a specific impersonal prohibitive construction employing the infinitive of the verb *p-wut* ‘leave’ followed by the infinitive of the main verb, as in examples (29) and (30). There is no positive equivalent of this structure, which is a paradigmatic asymmetry.

- (29) p-wut p-fumaar ʈi.
 INF-leave INF-smoke here
 ‘Smoking is not allowed here.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (30) p-wut p-haabus u-janel.
 INF-leave INF-open CLF.2.SG-window
 ‘Do not open the window.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

2.2.2 Negative obligative

Obligatives are built with the copula *p-wo* followed by a verb marked for imperfective and with a serial subject agreement marker. The structure of the clause is SBJ-COP IPFV-SER-VB, as in example (31). The negative counterpart of obligatives applies the standard negation morpheme on the copula; the structure of the clause is SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-COP IPFV-SER-VB, as in example (32). In the negative obligative, the same asymmetries appear as in perfective negative.

- (31) i-wo k-a-ləmp.
 2SG-COP IPFV-SER-work
 ‘You must work.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (32) i-in-wo k-a-win-a.
 2SG-NEG-COP IPFV-SER-see-3SG.OBJ
 ‘You must not see him.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

2.2.3 Hypothetical constructions

The marker for hypothetical is *p-şaŋ*. Semantically, this auxiliary means that the process should have been done, but was prevented. The clause follows the structure SBJ-HYP SER-VB, as in example (33). There is no dedicated negative marker for hypothetical: the standard negation morpheme occurs with the same asymmetries as in perfective negative. The structure of the negative clause is SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-HYP SER-VB, as in example (34).

- (33) *i-şaŋ a-ləmp.*
 2SG-HYP SER-work
 ‘You should have worked.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

- (34) *i-in-şaŋ a-ləmp.*
 2SG-NEG-HYP SER-work
 ‘You should not have worked.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

2.2.4 Negative questions

Overt questions are marked by the particle *i* occurring at the end of the clause. Interrogative clauses do not have a specific verbal construction, therefore, the negation depends on the paradigm used. There is no dedicated negation morpheme, the standard negation morpheme also occurs in negative questions, see examples (35) and (36). Negative subject agreement marker for 1SG and negative intonation pattern always occur (rising then falling, stressing the negation marker, and rising at the end of the clause for the question), in some cases (imperfective or future clauses) also TAM marking asymmetry.

- (35) *na-ntohi a-an-daan biere i?*
 CLF.1.SG-old_man 3SG-NEG-drink beer Q
 ‘Hasn’t the old man drunk beer?’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (36) *i-iŋ-k-ia p-win şaaş i?*
 2SG-NEG-IPFV-FUT INF-see father Q
 ‘Will you not see your father?’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

2.3 Negation in stative predication

2.3.1 Possession

Possession is a standard verbal predication expressed by the verb *p-ka* ‘have’, which is normally inflected in positive and negative, such as in examples (37)

and (38). The same asymmetries arise as in declarative clauses.

- (37) Dama a-ka na-poṭ.
 PN 3SG-have CLF.1.SG-child
 ‘Dama has a child.’ (Gaved 2020: 125)
- (38) Dama a-aŋ-ka na-poṭ.
 PN 3SG-NEG-have CLF.1.SG-child
 ‘Dama does not have children.’ (Gaved 2020: 125)

2.3.2 Attribution clauses

Attributive clauses are standard verbal constructions using the copula *p-wo* ‘be’, which is normally inflected in positive and in negative, such as in examples (39) and (40). The standard negation morpheme occurs on the copula.

- (39) m-ən-wo na-hula.
 1SG.NEG-NEG-COP CLF.1.SG-hula
 ‘I am not hula (Mankanya).’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (40) i-in-wo na-jukan.
 2SG-NEG-COP CLF.1.SG-teacher
 ‘You are not teacher.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

2.3.3 Existential and locative predication

Existential and locative can be expressed by the use of the copula *p-wo* ‘be’ which is normally inflected in positive and in negative, as shown in examples (41–44).

- (41) ʈi da-wo na ba-poṭ.
 here CLF.9.SG-COP PREP CLF.1.PL-children
 ‘There are children here.’ (lit. ‘Here is with children.’) (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (42) ʈi da-an-wo na ba-poṭ.
 here CLF.9.SG-NEG-COP PREP CLF.1.PL-children
 ‘There are no children here.’ (lit. ‘Here is not with children.’) (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (43) ba-poṭ ba-wo ʈi.
 CLF.1.PL-children CLF.1.PL-COP here
 ‘Children are here.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

- (44) ba-poṭ ba-an-wo ɿ.
 CLF.1.PL-children CLF.1.PL-NEG-COP here
 ‘Children are not here.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

The second existential construction is based on the verb *p-ka* ‘have’ in an impersonal use *uka* (*u-ka* CLF.2.SG-have; the subject agreement marker is *u-* which can be bound to *u-ko* ‘something’⁶). This impersonal construction is exemplified in (45). This have a negative counterpart *uṅka* (*u-ṅ-ka* CLF.2.SG-NEG-have) which may occur in a nominal clause or negative verbal clause, see examples (46) and (47).

- (45) u-ka du u-kalabus...
 CLF.2.SG-have LOC CLF.2.SG-prison
 ‘There was in the prison...’ (Gaved 2020: 209)
- (46) Uṅka na-duttur ɿ u-ntabaṅka.
 NEG.EX CLF.1.SG-doctor LOC CLF.2.SG-village
 ‘There is no doctor in the village.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (47) Uṅka ṅaan a-an-hil-uṅ p-do u-ko wi.
 NEG.EX someone 3SG-NEG-can-SUB INF-do CLF.2.SG-thing DEM
 ‘Nobody can do that.’ (lit. ‘There isn’t a person able to do that.’)
 (Montébran, fieldnotes)

Presentative constructions are marked by a reduplication of demonstrative articles, such as in example (48). The negation morpheme occurring in these clauses is *mēnɿ*, which is added to the positive clauses without other modifications, such as in example (49).

- (48) ba-buk naan biki biki.
 CLF.1A.SG-children POSS.1SG DEM DEM
 ‘Here are my children.’ (Gaved 2020: 124)
- (49) mēnɿ ba-buk naan biki biki.
 NEG.NML CLF.1A.SG-children POSS.1SG DEM DEM
 ‘These are not my children.’ (Gaved 2020: 126)

Locative constructions use the copula *p-wo* ‘be’ which is normally inflected in positive and in negative. There is no specific negative morpheme dedicated to

⁶For more details see Gaved (2020: 208)

the locative predications, the standard negation morpheme occurs on the copula, as shown in example (50). States or permanent properties are encoded lexically by a verb, and are thereby negated by the standard negation strategy. The verbal encoding of property predications is cross-linguistically common (51).

- (50) b-maŋa ba-an-wo ʈi b-lay.
 CLF.7.SG-mango_tree CLF.7.SG-NEG-COP LOC CLF.5.SG-yard
 ‘The mango tree is not in the yard.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (51) ŋ-ya u-ʈeeh woli b-nuur ba-an-yiik-i
 1PL-go CLF.2.SG-field if CLF.7.SG-sunlight CLF.5.SG-NEG-be_hot-COMPL
 ‘We’re going to the field if it’s not hot’ (Gaved 2020: 121)

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

There is no specific negation dedicated to non-main clauses; the standard negation marker (with negative subject agreement marker for 1SG and negative intonation pattern) also occurs in relative and complement clauses. In negative, imperfective and future clauses are marked by the prefix *k-*.

In relative clauses, the negation involves the copula *p-wo*, which will take the negation marker. It is noteworthy that the suffix *-uŋ* indicating non-main clauses occurs on the finite verb of the dependent clause in positive and on the copula in negative clauses. The verb loses its finiteness, as for example between the sentences (52) and (53).

- (52) u-buʃ, u-ʈoo-uŋ, u-joʈ-i.
 CLF.2.SG-dog CLF.2.SG-seat-SUB CLF.2.SG-be_nasty-COMPL
 ‘The seated dog is nasty.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (53) u-buʃ, u-un-wo-uŋ u-uŋ-ʈoo,
 CLF.2.SG-dog CLF.2.SG-NEG-COP-SUB CLF.2.SG-NEG-seat
 u-joʈ-i.
 CLF.2.SG-be_nasty-COMPL
 ‘The dog, which is not seated, is nasty.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

The negation of the complement clauses depends on the paradigm employed (perfective or imperfective), as shown in examples (54) and (55).

- (54) a-ji kē i-im-bi taakal.
 3SG-say COORD 2SG-NEG-come yesterday
 ‘He says that you did not come yesterday.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

- (55) d-ji kē i-iŋ-k-bi faan.
 1SG-say COORD 2SG-NEG-IPFV-come tomorrow
 ‘I say that you will not come tomorrow.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

Conditional clauses are initiated by the conjunction *wol*. There are perfective and imperfective conditional clauses.

In perfective conditional clauses, the negation proceeds the same way as in the negation of perfective indicative. A/Cat/PNG asymmetry for 1SG and the specific negative intonation pattern arise.

Imperfective conditional clauses are introduced by the conjunction *wol* and closed with the morpheme *le*. The negation proceeds the same way as the negation of imperfective indicative. Represented asymmetry types concern the TAM marking A/Cat/TAM, the subject agreement A/Cat/PNG, and the intonation pattern.

Examples (56) and (57) show the negative construction for conditional, perfective and imperfective.

- (56) wol m-ən-ləmp-i...
 COND 1SG.NEG-NEG-work-COMPL
 ‘If I have not worked...’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (57) wol m-əŋ-k-ləmp le [...]
 COND 1SG.NEG-NEG-IPFV-work COND
 ‘If I do not work [...]’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

The interjection meaning ‘no’ is *ʔaʔa* (*aa* means ‘yes’). Strictly speaking, *ʔaʔa* means disagreement with the polarity of the question and *aa* means agreement with the polarity of the question. Both can be followed by a negative clause, such as in examples (58) and (59).

- (58) ‘Is she back home?’
 ʔaʔa a-an-do bi tiis̥.
 no 3SG-NEG-INGR PST come_back
 ‘No, she did not come back yet.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

LV: It would be good to show complete sentences, if possible.

Author: I'll have to look for it. I'll send it later

- (59) ‘She is not back home yet?’

aa a-an-do bi tiiş.

yes 3SG-NEG-INGR PST come_back

‘Yes, she did not come back yet.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

3.2 Negative indefinites

Negative indefinites are based on the negation morpheme *niin*: *niin ñaaŋ* ‘no-one, nobody’, *niin u-ko* ‘nothing’, *niin u-ko u-loŋ* ‘nothing, anything’. These negative indefinites occur in positive sentences, as in example (60).

- (60) p-wala ka-tempt pa-an-wo niin

INF-come_down CLF.3.SG-circumcision CLF.3.SG-NEG-be NEG

u-ko u-loŋ.

CLF.2.SG-thing CLF.2.SG-INDF

‘To be circumcised is nothing.’ (Gaved 2020: 142)

3.3 Negative derivation

Negative derivation has not been found in Mankanya.

Gaved (2007: 12) also notes that in some cases, a perfective verb may appear as a qualifier in an attributive clause to express some properties of the subject. This verb may be at the negative perfective (with all characteristics of the negation of perfective), as in example (61).

- (61) ba-wo ba-am-buk-i.

3PL-COP 3PL-NEG-bear-COMPL

‘They are without children.’ (Gaved 2007: 12)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

In Mankanya, the negative marker always occurs immediately before the negated constituent.

The negation of focused subject or object is realised with the morpheme *měnt* appearing clause initially and followed by the subject or by the object. This morpheme *měnt* is usually used as an anaphoric demonstrative (62), but in this specific construction it occurs as a negative marker, as shown in the opposition between (63) and (64).

- (62) u-ko mēnt̚ u-de Şompi maakan.
CLF.2.SG-think that CLF.2.SG-eat PN very
'This thing worried Shompi a lot.' (Gaved 2020: 125)
- (63) nji d-wo-uŋ ʈi.
1SG.INDEP 1SG-COP-SUB here
'It is me living here.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (64) mēnt̚ nji d-wo-uŋ ʈi.
NEG.NML 1SG.INDEP 1SG-COP-SUB here
'It is not me living here.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

The focused object (negated or not) appears at the beginning of the clause, it is followed by a relative clause (note that in these specific relative clauses the first person subject appears as a homorganic nasal *N-*), such as in examples (65) and (66).

- (65) ka-hot ki ŋ-kit-iŋ.
CLF.3.SG-leg REL 1SG.REL-break-1SG.OBJ-SUB
'It is my leg that is broken.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (66) mēnt̚ ka-hot ki ŋ-kit-iŋ.
NEG.NML CLF.3.SG-leg REL 1SG.REL-break-1SG.OBJ-SUB
'It is not my leg that is broken.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

4.2 Negative polarity

Negative polarity items have not been found in the data so far.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation.

No effects on the marking of NPs have been found in the data.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Mankanya has a particle *i*, used to reinforce the obligative construction (see example 67), which may also occurs with negation, as in example (68).

- (67) i-wo i k-a-win-a.
2SG-COP RENF IPFV-SER-see-3SG.OBJ
'You absolutely must see him.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

- (68) i-in-wo i k-a-win-a.
 2SG-NEG-COP RENF IPFV-SER-see-3SG.OBJ
 ‘You absolutely must not see him.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

The negative morphemes *měnt* and *niin* occur in the negation of nominal constituents of the clause, namely to negate a focused subject or object; or with the meaning ‘*neither... nor...*’, in this case, they are occurring in negative clauses. If it concerns the subject, the structure is similar to the negation of emphatic clauses, the negative morpheme *měnt* occurs, as in example (69).

- (69) mēnt papa a, mēnt nni a, bukal
 NEG.NML father 3SG.INDEP.OBJ NEG.NML mother 3SG.INDEP.OBJ 3PL.INDEP
 bti ba-tēb ba-am-bi-i.
 all CLF.1.PL-two CLF.1.PL-NEG-come-COMPL
 ‘Neither my father nor my mother came.’ (lit. ‘Neither my father, nor my mother, all the two of them did not come.’) (Montébran, fieldnotes)

If the negation concerns the object, without any emphasis, the negative morpheme will be *niin*, as in example (70).

- (70) m-ən-du niin papa niin nni.
 1SG.NEG-NEG-call NEG father NEG mother
 ‘I did not call neither my father nor my mother.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

The verbal emphasis in positive sentences is realised by stressing the verb. The negative counterpart uses the standard negation construction, and is stressed by the negative intonation. This construction is mostly used in contrastive sentences (as in examples (71) and (72)), but may also be used as answers.

- (71) m-ən-leir-i, d-piit-piit.
 1SG.NEG-NEG-read-COMPL 1SG-write-write
 ‘I did not read, I was writing.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (72) m-əŋ-k-ia k-a-de, d-daan-daan.
 1SG.NEG-NEG-IPFV-FUT IPFV-SER-eat 1SG-drink-drink
 ‘I will not eat, I am drinking.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

4.6 Other aspects of negation

One occurrence of expletive negation has been found in the data. It is a nominal clause, with the negation morpheme *měnt*, used as an answer to the question ‘who did that?’. The answer expresses the certainty of the speaker, despite the use of negation, as in example (73). Even more, the use of negation reinforced the certainty of the speaker, even if it may be perceived as ironic.

- (73) *měnt* *ul* *a!*
 NEG.NML 3SG.INDEP 3SG
 ‘That’s him!’ (lit. ‘That is not him!’) (Montébran, fieldnotes)

5 Conclusion

To conclude, we observed that there are 5 negation morphemes in Mankanya, summarized in Table 4. Two of them occur in verbal clauses, the other three in nominal clauses. The standard negation morpheme is a verbal prefix -VN-, which occurs to negate all verbal structures, including existential, stative or possessive ones, but not the prohibitive constructions. These ones are negated by the negative auxiliary *p-wut*.

Verbal clauses always present a subject agreement marker. In negative clauses (except in prohibitive, which is defective), the subject agreement marking differs for 1SG.

In Mankanya, the aspectual marking differs from positive to negative clauses. Intonation patterns distinguish perfective and imperfective constructions in positive clauses, but are always identical in negative clauses. Negative clauses with the standard negation morpheme are characterized by a specific intonation pattern. In negative clauses, perfective and imperfective are morphologically distinct (imperfective is marked by a prefix *k-*, perfective is unmarked), whereas both are morphologically unmarked in positive clauses.

Prohibitive is a specific negative counterpart to imperatives and commands. There are two possible forms for prohibitive: a longer one used in formal speech, or a shortened one, more commonly used. The negation morpheme used to negate commands and imperatives is a negative auxiliary. This paradigm is defective and has no 1SG form.

Negation of nominal elements has three specific markers *Měnt*, *niin*, and *uŋka*. The use of each of them is clearly defined. *Měnt* occurs in focused contexts, and not *niin*. Negation of stative prediction mostly uses standard negation, in the case of existential negation another morpheme (*uŋka*) may arise. Table 4 sums-up on the characteristics of each paradigms.

Table 4: The negative constructions of Mankanya

Negative marker	Negative construction	Used for
-VN-	SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-VB	Perfective, past, habitual, obligative
-VN-	SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-IPFV-VB	Imperfective, future, durative
<i>p-wut</i>	SBJ-leave-IMP IPFV-SER-VB	Prohibitive
Ø	SBJ-IPFV-VB	Prohibitive (shortened)
<i>mēnt</i>	NEG.NML SBJ	Presentative, focused subject or object
<i>uŋka</i>	NEG.EX SBJ	Negative existential
<i>niin</i>	immediately before the negated constituent	neither... nor
<i>ʔaʔa</i>	<i>ʔaʔa</i>	negative reply

Abbreviations

1–10, 1A	number of nominal class		
1SG	first person singular	IPFV	imperfective
2SG	second person singular	LOC	locative
3SG	third person singular	NML	nominal
1PL	first person plural	NEG	negation
2PL	second person plural	NP	noun phrase
3PL	third person plural	OBJ	object
CLF	nominal classifier	PST	past
COND	conditional	PL	plural
COORD	coordination	PN	proper noun
COP	copula	POSS	possession
COMPL	completive	Q	question marker
DEM	demonstrative	REL	relative
EX	existential	RENF	reinforcement particle
FUT	future	SBJ	subject
HAB	habitual	SER	serial subject agreement marker
HYP	hypothesis		
IMP	imperative	SG	singular
INDEP	independent subject marker	SUB	subordinate
INDF	indefinite	TAM	tense, aspect, mood
INF	infinitive	VB	verb
INGR	ingressive		

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Negation in Mano

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This paper describes the negation system in Mano, a Southern Mande language. Negation in Mano is asymmetric both because negation involves a change in the TAM constructions (constructional asymmetry) and because the inventory of negative constructions is reduced with respect to the inventory of affirmative constructions (paradigmatic asymmetry), which characterizes negation in declarative, non-verbal and non-main clauses. In non-declarative constructions, several negative constructions do not have affirmative counterparts, resulting in paradigmatic asymmetry. Mano indefinite quantifiers distinguish between full and partial negation. Another unusual feature is a dedicated negative particle *g̃g̃* which is used only conditional constructions. Mano does not have any negative derivation or negative coordinators and just one negative polarity item, *fēi* ‘nothing’.

Keywords: negation, Mano, Mande, asymmetric negation, quantifiers.

1 The language

Mano (or *mááwè*, Ethnologue: Maan, ISO: **mev**, Glottocode: **mann1248**) counts 370 000 speakers in Guinea and Liberia and is one of the several dozen languages spoken in these countries. Mano belongs to the Southern branch of the Mande language family, which has a debated status within the Niger-Congo phylum (Vydrine 2016; Dimmendaal & Storch 2016).

Mano is spoken in South-Eastern Guinea and Northern Liberia. Guinean Mano counts about 66 000 speakers being one of 34 indigenous languages spoken in Guinea (Bah & Bangoura 2017). In Liberia, Mano is spoken by about 305 000 people, it is the fifth, out of 27, most spoken indigenous language of the country. In Guinea, three Mano dialects are distinguished: Zaan (*z̃àà*), the easternmost dialect spoken around the Bossou town, Maa (*m̃àà*), the central dialect spoken in the city of Nzérékoré and to the south of it, and Kpeinson (*k̃pé̃ɲs̃*), the Western dialect spoken around the Diécké town. In Liberia, there are also three dialects: the

Northern dialect, Maalaa (*máá lāā*), spoken around Sanniquellie, the Central dialect, Maazein (*máá zèh*) spoken around Ganta, and the Southern dialect, Maabei (*máá bèi*), spoken around Saklepea. It is likely that there are several other varieties spoken to the south of Saklepea. Guinean and Liberian dialects are mutually understandable. While there is some variation between them, especially in the domain of phonology and lexicon (Khachaturyan 2018), there is much less variation in morphosyntax and no attested variation in the negation system, which is the main topic of this paper. Most of the data is drawn from the central Guinean dialect, Maa.

The work on Mano is based on fifteen months of fieldwork conducted by the author between 2009 and 2019. Many examples are drawn from natural examples from a spoken corpus, but a small portion is elicited, all examples are marked correspondingly (nat. and el.). Some examples coming from the Bible translation (UBS 1978) are marked (UBS) and were checked with a native speaker for grammaticality and natural sounding. A grammar can be found in Khachaturyan (2015), some typological findings were exposed in Khachaturyan (2014a, 2020). The paper is based on the “Questionnaire for describing the negation system of a language” by the editors of this volume and follows its structure.

Mano is characterized by a fixed S-O-V-X word order, where X stands for all oblique arguments and adverbs. The word order in the noun phrase is Gen – N – Adj, followed by number words, quantifiers, and demonstratives, respectively. While Mano segmental morphology is relatively poor, it has a rich system of tonal morphemes, especially on the verb and on the auxiliary (see Appendices with sample paradigms and §2.1 for a discussion of the use of the forms).

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Mano predications are divided into two major types: predicator clauses, where the head is an invariable predicator, and constructions with auxiliaries which function as a site of subject indexation. The word order in the latter is S-AUX-O-V, where AUX is an auxiliary. The subject NP is optional, so the subject may be expressed solely by a person and number index on the auxiliary. The list of auxiliaries is given in the Appendix (Table 6). When the direct object is expressed by a 3SG pronoun, a portmanteau form of the auxiliary is typically used, although a combination of a non-portmanteau form and a pronoun are also possible; such portmanteau forms are marked with >3SG (1).

- (1) mǎà mā.
 1SG.PRF>3SG understand
 ‘I have understood it.’ (nat.)

The auxiliaries are not the only markers of TAM. As is typical for languages of Sub-Saharan Africa (Welmers 1973: 343), in Mano, TAM values, including negation, are not expressed by specific markers: they are rather expressed by a construction as a whole which contains auxiliaries together with particles (such as the negative particle *gbā* used in the negative aorist (5); *néh* ‘not yet’ used in the negative perfect (7); or *dō* ‘once, never’ used in the affirmative and negative experiential (12, 13)) and verbs in a particular morphological form (for a sample of verbal forms, see Appendix, Table 7).

In declaratives, there is only one negative auxiliary series (glossed by NEG) which, combined with different grammatical means, is used to form constructions of negative imperfective (3), aorist (5), and perfect (7), while in the affirmative zone, there are three dedicated auxiliaries used for these purposes. Thus, affirmative imperfective is formed with the imperfective auxiliary (2), affirmative aorist is formed with the past auxiliary (4) and affirmative perfect is formed with the perfect auxiliary (6).

- (2) Affirmative imperfective
 ɲɲ nǎà à ká.
 1SG.IPFV love:IPFV 3SG with
 ‘I want that.’ (nat.)
- (3) Negative imperfective
 ɲɲ nǎā nɛɲwò gèà ká.
 1SG.NEG love lie say.GER with
 ‘I don’t like lying.’ (nat.)
- (4) Affirmative aorist
 ē túó.
 3SG.PST be.afraid
 ‘She got scared.’ (nat.)
- (5) Negative aorist
 ɲɲ gbā wìì zē.
 1SG.NEG NEG animal kill
 ‘I did not kill an animal.’ (nat.)

- (6) Affirmative perfect
 āà k̄ā ló k̄ā s̄ṓj gbùò ká.
 3SG.PRF 2PL buy 2PL price big with
 ‘He has bought you with a big price.’ (nat.)
- (7) Negative perfect (,not yet‘)
 Z̄ézú l̄èé nū n̄éj̄ .
 Jesus 3SG.NEG come yet
 ‘Jesus has not come yet.’ (nat.)

In addition to the aforementioned basic constructions, Mano has future and imperfect constructions (affirmative and negative). The future construction derives from the imperfective construction: the auxiliary verb *ló* ‘go’ is put in the imperfective, followed by the content verb in the gerund form (8–9). The imperfect derives from the aorist construction: the auxiliary verb *kē* ‘be’ is put in the aorist, followed by the content verb in the infinitive (10–11).

- (8) Affirmative future
 l̄éè lō ȳé-è ē z̄í.
 3SG.IPFV go:IPFV break-GER 3SG.REFL back
 ‘He will come back.’ (nat.)
- (9) Negative future
 l̄éé ló w̄āā ð̄èlà ȳī.
 3SG.NEG go suffering eat.GER there
 ‘She will not suffer there.’ (nat.)
- (10) Affirmative imperfect
 ɲ̄éné ē kē ḡáá-p̄èl̄è.
 sun 3SG.PST do drag-INF
 ‘The day (of the festivities) was approaching.’ (nat.)
- (11) Negative imperfect
 l̄éé gbā kē ló-p̄èl̄è ē m̄èj̄.
 3SG.NEG NEG do go-INF 3SG.REFL behind
 ‘He was not going back.’ (nat.)

The experiential affirmative construction is formed by adding the particle *dō* ‘once’ to the perfect construction (12). The negative experiential construction is formed by replacing the particle *n̄éj̄* ‘not yet’ with *dō* ‘once’ in the negative perfect construction (13).

- (12) Affirmative experiential
 wāà gè dō.
 3PL.PRF>3SG see once
 ‘They have once seen it.’ (nat.)
- (13) Negative experiential
 kòó mī dò gè dō zèē.
 1PL.NEG person INDF see once here
 ‘We have never seen anyone here.’ (nat.)

The final declarative construction is prospective (14), which cannot be negated.

- (14) Prospective
 yèlè é kpìlì kē.
 3SG.PROSP 3SG.CNJV feast do
 ‘He is going to organize a feast.’ (nat.)

In addition, imperfective and resultative constructions are formed on non-verbal models. Affirmative imperfective is based on the existential auxiliary and affirmative resultative is based on the affirmative predicator *lē*, while the negative imperfective and the negative resultative are based on the general stative negator, the copula *wó*. These constructions are properly introduced in §2.3. Table 1 compares affirmative and negative declarative verbal clauses.

Table 1: Declarative verbal clauses

	affirmative	negative
imperfective	SBJ-AUX.IPFV-VB:IPFV (2)	SBJ-AUX.NEG-VB (3)
future	SBJ-AUX.IPFV-ló(‘go’):IPFV-VB-GER (8)	SBJ-AUX.NEG-ló(‘go’)-VB-GER (9)
aorist	SBJ-AUX.PST-VB (4)	SBJ-AUX.NEG- <i>gbā</i> -VB (5)
imperfect	SBJ-AUX.PST- <i>kē</i> -VB-INF (10)	SBJ-AUX.NEG- <i>gbā</i> - <i>kē</i> -VB-INF (11)
perfect	SBJ-AUX.PRF-VB (6)	‘not yet’: SBJ-AUX.NEG-VB- <i>néñ</i> (7)
	experiential: SBJ-AUX.PRF-VB- <i>dō</i> (12)	experiential: SBJ-AUX.NEG-VB- <i>dō</i> (13)
prospective	SBJ-AUX.PROSP-AUX.CNJV-VB (14)	N/A

To conclude this section, negation in Mano is asymmetric (in the sense proposed by Miestamo 2005) both because negation involves a change in the TAM constructions (constructional asymmetry) and because the inventory of negative

constructions is reduced with respect to the inventory of affirmative constructions (paradigmatic asymmetry). The main marker for standard negation is the negative auxiliary series.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Just like in declarative constructions, in non-declaratives, including directives, Mano employs specific TAM constructions which differ from one another in the choice or the auxiliary (and sometimes in the construction-initial particle), the verb typically remaining in its lexical form. Thus, the imperative and the basic optative constructions employ a subjunctive auxiliary (15); in the second person singular imperative, the auxiliary is not expressed. The prohibitive construction employs the prohibitive auxiliary series (16).

(15) Imperative

kà gó sòŋ ɲwò gènè.
1PL.SBJV leave character problem:CNSTR in.front.of
'Stop behaving badly!' (lit. 'Go away from the problem of behavior!')
(UBS)

(16) Prohibitive

ḃáá wèè mā.
2PL.PROH>3SG speech hear
'Don't listen to him!' (lit. 'Don't hear his speech!') (nat.)

Optative and prohibitive constructions can also be formed with a subjunctive auxiliary together with dedicated optative (*fǝkē*, (17)) or prohibitive (*yékè*, (18)) construction-initial particle. The prohibitive particle is also used in purpose constructions ('so that X doesn't do Y').

(17) Optative

fǝkē kó ló à pié yīi bà zàá.
OPT 1PL.CNJV go 3SG at dream in in
'We should come to him in the dream.' (nat.)

(18) Prohibitive

yékè ó ló ō mènǝ Hélò pié.
PROH 3PL.CNJV go 3PL behind Herod at
'They should not return to Herod.' (UBS)

Another prohibitive construction is formed with a paraphrase, literally meaning ‘I am not telling you to do X’. Its exact pragmatic value is unknown, however, because of its non-explicit form, it could be connected to the politeness function of hedging and avoiding direct commands (19).

(19) Prohibitive

ɲɲ gèē ká gbóó ɓō!
 1SG.NEG>3SG say 2PL.CNJV crying implement
 ‘Don’t cry!’ (lit. ‘I am not telling you to cry.’) (nat.)

There are no dedicated hortative constructions, but imperatives, optatives and prohibitives may have a hortative interpretation. Thus, (17) can be read as a mutual encouragement: the spirits of a person’s deceased parents are encouraging one another to come to him in a dream.

A particular modal construction – the dubitative – is used without an inverse polarity counterpart. It could be interpreted as a negative polarity construction, as it means that an event occurred from the perspective of the subject, but the external observer disagrees that it indeed took place. Thus, the construction expresses a negation, from an outsider’s perspective, of the state of affairs as seen by the protagonist whose point of view is expressed (20).

(20) Dubitative

àá là wée-pè wē yìè mā gbāābō.
 3SG.DUB 3SG.POSS speak-thing:CNSTR DEM good hear now
 ‘She thought that she heard her beautiful musical instrument (but in fact it was a fish).’ (nat.)

To sum up, Mano non-declaratives show constructional asymmetry patterns: there is a negative optative periphrastic without an affirmative counterpart; there is also a dubitative construction which is also implicitly negative. Non-declarative clauses are summarized in Table 2.

Table 2: Non-declarative clauses

	affirmative	negative
directive	AUX.SBJV; <i>fɔ̀kē</i> AUX.CNJV	AUX.PROH; <i>yékè</i> AUX.CNJV; <i>ɲɲ gèē</i> AUX.CNJV
dubitative	N/A	AUX.DUB

2.3 Negation in non-verbal predications

Most stative non-verbal predications in the present are formed with an existential auxiliary.¹ In contrast to other auxiliary constructions, there is no verb in non-verbal constructions with existential auxiliaries (21). In the past, however, an overt verb *kē* ‘be’ is used as part of the aorist construction (22). The verb can also be used in the sense ‘become’, used in non-stative functions and put in the perfect (23) or imperfective construction (24). Examples below illustrate the proper inclusion non-verbal function, but the same patterns can apply to other non-verbal functions listed further in this section.

- (21) à dàā lē dōmì ká.
3SG father 3SG.EX chief with
‘His father is a chief.’ (el.)
- (22) à dàā ē kē dōmì ká.
3SG father 3SG.PST be chief with
‘His father was a chief.’ (nat.)
- (23) à dàā āā kē dōmì ká.
3SG father 3SG.PRF be chief with
‘His father has become a chief.’ (el.)
- (24) à dàā lēē kē dōmì ká.
3SG father 3SG.IPFV be:IPFV chief with
‘His father becomes a chief.’ (el.)

All stative negative non-verbal predications in the present are formed with a general stative negative copula *wó* (26b) (Veselinova 2013). Non-stative and/or non-present non-verbal predications are negated according to the models of standard negation given in §2.1. For example, negative stative predication in the past is formed like negative aorist (25).

- (25) à dàā lēē gbā kē dōmì ká.
3SG father 3SG.NEG NEG be chief with
‘His father was not a chief.’ (el.)

Stative non-verbal constructions as listed in Veselinova (2014), that is, equation, proper inclusion (also called classification, Haspelmath 2021), attribution, locative and possessive predications are given below with their affirmative and negative counterparts (26–30).

¹More details in non-verbal predication in Mano can be found in Khachaturyan (2023).

(26) Equation

- a. gó wē lē ŋ dē ká
man:H DEM 3SG.EX 1SG husband with
'This man is my husband.' (el.)
- b. gó wē wó ŋ dē ká
man:H DEM COP.NEG 1SG husband with
'This man is not my husband.' (el.)

(27) Proper inclusion

- a. Sèé lē kàlà móó ká.
Se 3SG.EX teacher with
'Se is a teacher.' (el.)
- b. Sèé wó kàlà móó ká.
Se COP.NEG teacher with
'Se is not a teacher.' (el.)

(28) Attribution

- a. góānéé vò ō tííkpé.
cat PL 3PL.EX small
'Cats are small.' (el.)
- b. góānéé vò wó tííkpé.
cat PL COP.NEG small
'Cats are not small.' (el.)

(29) Location

- a. ī kēì.
2SG.EX house.LOC
'You are in the room.' (el.)
- b. fī wó kēì.
2SG.EMPH COP.NEG house.LOC
'You are not in the room.' (el.)

(30) Possession

- a. góānéé vò ō ŋ kèlè.
cat PL 3PL.EX 1SG hand
'I have cats.' (lit. 'Cats are in my hand.') (el.)

- b. góǎnέέ vò wó ĩ̃ kèlè.
 cat PL COP.NEG 1SG hand
 ‘I don’t have cats’ (lit. ‘Cats aren’t in my hand.’) (el.)

In all the examples above, the argument of the existential auxiliary or of the negative copula is the argument of the predication. Proper inclusion construction is formed, in addition to the argument and the auxiliary (or the copula), with a postpositional phrase with a comitative postposition *ká* expressing the set into which the subject NP is included. In some affirmative proper inclusion constructions, however, the set NP can be put in the argument position, while the definite NP, the argument of the predication, is put in the postpositional phrase, such as in (31). Such constructions have the predicator *lé* instead of the existential auxiliary (more details on the predicator can be found below). The difference between these two types of proper inclusion constructions most likely pertains to the level of information structure, as reflected in the translation of (31) and (32). For more detail on argument-predicate reversal, see [Khachaturyan \(2023\)](#).

- (31) mouchoir lé mí tó̃ ká.
 handkerchief[FR] ATT person:H DEM.VIS with
 ‘It is a handkerchief, this thing (lit. person).’ (nat.)
- (32) mí tó̃ lē mouchoir ká.
 person:H DEM.VIS 3SG.EX handkerchief[FR] with
 ‘This thing (lit. person) is a handkerchief.’ (el.)

In addition to the constructions predicating location, classification, or an attribute of a referent and thus having two argument slots, Mano also has constructions with only one argument position. These constructions have functions of predicating existence, the function dubbed *hyparctic* by [Haspelmath \(2021\)](#). Like other non-verbal constructions, in the affirmative, they are formed with the existential auxiliary (33), and in the negative (34), with the copula *wó*. They also contain an existential particle *bē~wē*.

- (33) Affirmative hyparctic predication
 bīē vò ō bē.
 elephant PL 3PL.EX EX
 ‘Elephants exist.’ (el.)
- (34) Negative hyparctic predication

bīē vò wó bē.
 elephant PL COP.NEG EX
 ‘Elephants do not exist.’ (el.)

Another type of constructions with only one argument are used for referent identification or presentation (Killian 2022). These two functions have a lot of overlap and cannot be clearly delineated. One of the ways to pull the functions apart is based on the referent’s properties, whether it is physically available at the interactive scene. In identifying constructions, the referent does not need to be physically present. In the affirmative, identifying constructions are formed with the predicator² *lē* (35) and in the negative, with the copula *wó* and a postpositional phrase with the postposition *ká* and dummy 3SG pronoun *à* (36). The 3SG existential auxiliary *lē* and the predicator *lē* are homonymous, but the predicator is used with arguments of all persons and numbers (35), while the auxiliary is used only with a 3SG argument (27a): the 3PL subject requires the 3PL auxiliary *ō* (28a).

(35) Affirmative identification

kō gǝà vò lē.
 1PL man.PL PL IDENT
 ‘It is us, men.’ (nat.)

(36) Negative identification

à líésimà wáá ká.
 BRIDG chief.PL COP.NEG>3SG with
 ‘It is not the chiefs.’ (nat.)

Wó (37) and *gǝ* (38) are typically used in presentative constructions which serve to orient to physically available referents. *Gǝ*, deriving from the verb *gǝ* ‘to see’, is used with objects visible to both the speaker and addressee, while *wó* does not have that restriction. There is no negative equivalent of presentative constructions.

(37) Presentative with predicator *wó*

²A note on terminology. I consider copulas a type of predicators which indicate “the stative link between the two argument positions of a nonverbal clause” (Haspelmath 2021: 9). Only the copula *wó* corresponds to this definition, as it obligatorily has two syntactic arguments, including in identification constructions where semantically, there is only one argument. Predicators *lé*, *lē*, *gǝ* and *wó* are typically used with only one argument – the subject, although they may occasionally take a locative argument. For this reason, they are not considered to be copulas.

yē wó ̄.
 3SG.EMPH PRES DEM
 ‘There he is!’ (nat.)

- (38) Presentative with predicator *gē*
 dī dōó gē, bū wélé bōó dōó gē.
 cow one PRES.VIS rice bone bag one PRES.VIS
 ‘Here is one cow, here is one bag of rice.’ (nat.)

Presentative constructions can also be used to predicate location, in which case a locative argument is added after the predicator, as in (39).

- (39) Presentative and locational with predicator *wó*
 gítàà bīī wó dīī yā.
 guitar[FR] image PRES there DEM
 ‘There is the image of the guitar.’ (nat.)

Predicator *lé* is used both with physically available and non-available referents and, therefore, for presentation and identification. Its general function is drawing attention to a referent; as examples below and in §2.4 demonstrate, it can also be used as a focalizer or a relativizer (more on the link between these functions, see Khachaturyan & Ozerov 2021). In example (40), presentation is implicit as the speaker is referring to the village where he resides and where he is located at the moment of speech.

- (40) Identification/presentative with predicator *lé*
 à kē sèlè diè lé wē.
 3SG do village:CNSTR true ATT DEM
 ‘(We lie a lot), but this is the true village of liars.’ (lit. ‘The true village of doing it is.’) (nat.)

Predicators *lé* and *wó* are obligatorily followed by a demonstrative or a spatial adjunct. Whenever a demonstrative is used, the affirmative predicator *wó* can be distinguished from the negative predicator *wó*, but the examples where *wó* is followed by a locative adjunct are potentially ambiguous between a presentative reading and a negative location reading.

Presentative and identifying functions can be combined with the hyperarctic function, when the existence of an object is predicated at the same time when the referent is presented or identified. In such cases, the predicator *gē* or *lé* is used, followed by the existential marker *bē~wē*. The context of example (41) is

that a careless driver hits a motorist. He visits him in the hospital, most possibly, for negotiations of damage reimbursement. He brings relatives or friends with him. By uttering (41), the speaker does not only present the people, but also communicates the very fact that he has brought some people with him.

- (41) ɲ mīā gɛ̃ bē.
 1SG.POSS person.PL PRES.VIS EX
 ‘Here are my people.’ (nat.)

Whether or not the existence of the object demonstrated is predicated depends on the existing presuppositions and the referent’s status in the common knowledge of discourse participants. Thus, simple presentative constructions, such as (40), can be interpreted as hyparctic, as well. In (40), the demonstrative can be replaced by the existential marker *bē*.

Identifying and presentative predicators (*lé*, *wó*, *gɛ̃* but not *lē*) can be followed by a clause (typically with a final demonstrative, which however can be omitted, as in (42) the contexts of omission are not clear). The clause may serve to facilitate identification.

- (42) yē lé ē kīē zē kpá.
 3SG.EMPH ATT 3SG.PST chimpanzee kill long.time.ago
 ‘(The man that is here, it is my son,) It is him who killed the chimpanzee in the times past.’ (nat.)

Constructions with a clause can also be used in the focus function, which is a cross-linguistically rather typical extension of identification constructions (Kilian 2022). A common case arethetic (all-new) utterances where one NP – typically the subject – is framed with a demonstrative predicator. Example (43) is a response to the question, who wants my goat. Usually, big animals are needed in times of big events, most often funerals, so implicitly, the question is, whose funeral is the goat needed for. By saying “It is my in-law who has died”, the speaker of (43) responds to that implicit question. At the same time, the whole utterance in (43) is new information and functions as athetic utterance. See also (53) as an example of focalization of a locative adjunct and (77) as an example of direct object focalization.

- (43) mā lē, ɲ yóò lé à gā-à lē ē.
 1SG.EMPH IDENT 1SG in.law ATT 3SG die-GER IDENT DEM
 ‘It is me, my in-law died.’ (lit. ‘It is my in-law that its dying is.’)

Negative identification can also be combined with a clause in the cleft function (44).

- (44) néfú tɔ̃ wáá ká kē é làà wē kpó ē
child DEM.VIS COP.NEG>3SG with PURP 3SG.CNJV knife DEM put 3SG.REFL
sónó.
near
'It is not the child who puts the knife near himself.'

In contrast with affirmative identification constructions (42, 43), in negative identification constructions an indicative construction is not used, a purpose construction with a conjunctive auxiliary is used instead (44). There is no negative equivalent of presentative constructions. For more detail on identifying and presentative constructions, see Khachaturyan (2023).

As mentioned in §2.1, imperfective and resultative constructions are also formed on non-verbal models. The imperfective construction (45–46) is formed based on the locative construction (and indeed, the infinitive suffix *-pèlè* derives from the noun *pélé* 'place' in a low-tone construct form).

- (45) Affirmative imperfective
sàā lē ló-pèlè líé.
work 3SG.EX go-INF front
'The work is advancing.' (nat.)
- (46) Negative imperfective
mā wó ló-pèlè lūú.
1SG.EMPH COP.NEG go-INF bush
'I am not going to the bush.' (nat.)

Resultative constructions derive from identifying constructions where the subject position is occupied by a VP nominalization with a gerund (47–48).

- (47) Affirmative resultative
à ɓɔ̃-ɔ̃ lē.
3SG leave-GER IDENT
'He has left.' (lit. 'His leaving is.') (el.)
- (48) Negative resultative
à ɓɔ̃-ɔ̃ wáá ká.
3SG leave-GER COP.NEG>3SG with
'He has not left.' (lit. 'His leaving isn't with it.') (el.)

Table 3: Non-verbal clauses

	affirmative	negative
equation, attribution, locative, possessive	AUX.EX	COP.NEG
proper inclusion	AUX.EX OR ATT	COP.NEG
hyarctic	AUX.EX	COP.NEG
identifying	IDENT, ATT	COP.NEG
presentative	PRES, PRES.VIS, ATT	N/A
resultative	IDENT	COP.NEG
imperfective	AUX.EX	COP.NEG

Table 3 summarizes affirmative and negative non-verbal clauses.

Non-verbal predications manifest both constructional and paradigmatic asymmetry. Constructional asymmetry arises from the fact that all non-verbal predications in the affirmative are formed with an existential auxiliary, with the exception of presentative constructions which are formed with presentative predicators and identification constructions which are formed with the identification or attention-drawing predicator. The negative equivalents, however, are all formed with the copula. Paradigmatic asymmetry is manifested by the lack of negative equivalent of presentative constructions.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

By default, negation in non-main clauses is formed along the patterns of standard negation. Some non-main clauses in Mano do not have a negative counterpart. This is the case of the conjoint construction used to express a sequence of events in a narrative or simultaneously occurring events (49). In the negative, the usual negative construction is used (50).

- (49) ē nū wáà sōō sì pēlēí.
 3SG.PST come 3PL.CJ yelling take:CJ village
 ‘He came and they (immediately) started to yell in the village.’ (nat.)
- (50) léè gbóó fō tó làá zǔ ó
 3SG.IPFV sobbing implement:IPFV and 3SG.NEG>3SG accept 3PL.CNJV>3SG
 nēēnēé.
 console
 ‘Rachel is weeping and refuses (lit. does not accept) to be comforted.’
 (UBS)

Similarly to directive constructions in the main clause (see §2.2), affirmative and negative purpose clauses are both formed with the conjunctive auxiliary. The affirmative construction also includes the initial purpose particle *kē* (51) and the negative construction includes the prohibitive particle *yékè* (52).

- (51) monpère dò wó kō fèh̃ kē é làmésà
 priest[FR] INDF COP.NEG 1PL between PURP 3SG.CNJV Mass[FR]
 sàlà bō.
 sacrifice:CNSTR implement
 ‘There is no priest among us to celebrate the Mass.’ (lit. ‘There is no priest among us so that he implements the sacrifice of the Mass.’) (nat.)
- (52) óò lō ō kò yà ī wì yékè ī gâ é gǝ.
 3PL.IPFV go:IPFV 3PL hand sit 2SG under PROH 2SG foot 3SG.CNJV hurt
 ‘They will support you (lit. put their hands under you) so that your foot does not hurt.’ (nat.)

Relative clauses and focus constructions, the relativized or the focused constituent is framed by the predicator *lé* and its variants, *té*, *né*, used after a nasal vowel or a syllable starting with a nasal consonant, and a floating high tone. In these constructions, the imperfective auxiliary is systematically replaced by the subjunctive auxiliary both in the imperfective and in the future constructions (53). Negative relative clauses keep their negative auxiliary, which is another instance of paradigmatic asymmetry, because in the affirmative, there is a contrast between an imperfective construction use in the main and in the relative clause (or in a focus construction) and in the negative, there is no such contrast (54).

- (53) [lè lé ò bō kònò yī ā] yē lé è léé
 place ATT 3PL.SBJV goat stick:IPFV there DEM 3SG.EMPH ATT 3SG.SBJV leaf
 bèle yī ā.
 eat:IPFV there DEM
 ‘Where you attach the goat, this is where it eats the leaves.’ (nat.)
- (54) [mí né lèé bā ē bēē yīè ká ā] gbòò
 person:H ATT 3SG.NEG bear.fruit 3SG.REFL fruit good with DEM axe
 lē kpòá yílí gáná yí.
 3SG.EX put.GER>with tree root in
 ‘The person who does not bear good fruit, the axe is already put at the roots.’ (nat.)

Some dependent clauses can take a non-finite form: this is the case of purpose constructions which can contain a gerund if the subjects of the dependent and the main clauses corefer (55). Yet negative purpose clauses are expressed only by finite prohibitive constructions (56).

- (55) kò lō dè vō-ò ī ηwéì.
 1PL.SBJV go:IPFV divination send-GER 2SG because.of
 ‘Let’s go to make a divination for you.’ (nat.)
- (56) í gó lè wē mō, yékè í ī gā gbè sélé mésià
 2SG.CNJV leave place DEM on PROH 2SG.CNJV 2SG foot put ground holy
 wē yí.
 DEM in
 ‘You must leave so that you don’t put your feet on the holy ground.’ (nat.)

Conditional clauses are particularly interesting with respect to negation. There is a dedicated negative conditional marker *gòá* which is used in negative protasis (real, (59), and counterfactual, (61–62)) and in counterfactual negative apodosis (62). In addition, there are dedicated conditional verbal forms (two different tonal forms combined with the conditional suffix *-á*) used only in affirmative protasis, real (57) and counterfactual (60), as well as a counterfactual form *-à* used in negative protasis (real, (59), and counterfactual, (61–62), as well as in counterfactual apodosis (affirmative, (60–61), and negative, (62)). As all these examples show, there is a large array of dedicated conditional forms and constructions. The only cases where usual declarative constructions are used are real apodosis, which features imperfective and future constructions in the affirmative (57) and in the negative (58).

- (57) Real conditional, affirmative protasis, affirmative apodosis
 [ká mā-á ā] kàà lō yéí sí-à.
 2PL.CNJV>3SG hear:COND-COND DEM 2PL.IPFV go:IPFV laughter take-GER
 ‘If you hear it, you will laugh.’ (el.)
- (58) Real conditional, affirmative protasis, negative apodosis
 [í gēlè dà bēē bēē ā yí ā,] lēē ló dō péē.
 2SG.CNJV rock fall also bag DEM in DEM 3SG.NEG go once tear.GER
 ‘Even if you put a rock in the bag, it will not tear apart.’ (el.)

- (59) Real conditional, negative protasis, affirmative apodosis
 [í gǝ́ǎ kē-è ē] mī̀ dō gbēē lèé ló á
 2SG.CNJV COND.NEG do-CNTF DEM person INDF different 3SG.IPFV go 3SG
 kē-è.
 do-GER
 ‘If you don’t do it, nobody else will do it.’ (nat.)
- (60) Counterfactual conditional, affirmative protasis, affirmative apodosis
 [bà kà-ǎ yālá ā] báá gā-à jéné pèlèē
 2SG.SBJV>3SG cut:IRR-COND yesterday DEM 2SG.PROH die-CNTF sun two
 píé.
 to
 ‘If you had cut it, you would have died in two days.’ (el.)
- (61) Counterfactual conditional, negative protasis, affirmative apodosis
 [è gǝ́ǎ kē-è ī ká ā] máá wāā bēlè-à.
 3SG.SBJV COND.NEG do-CNTF 3SG with DEM 1SG.PROH suffering eat-CNTF
 ‘Without you (lit. if it hadn’t been you) I would have suffered.’ (el.)
- (62) Counterfactual conditional, negative protasis, negative apodosis
 [è gǝ́ǎ pé bē sí-à ā] lèé gǝ́ǎ
 3SG.SBJV COND.NEG thing:H DEM take-CNTF DEM 3SG.NEG COND.NEG
 fèlà gbāā.
 become.clear.CNTF now
 ‘If she hadn’t taken this thing, her skin (lit. she) would not have become so fair.’ (el.)

Note also that the meaning ‘without’ in (61) is expressed by a periphrastic construction: ‘without you’, lit. ‘if it hadn’t been you’.

Another interesting part are cases of polarity mismatch: the prohibitive auxiliary occurs in the construction of counterfactual affirmative apodosis (60). In addition, the subjunctive auxiliary occurs in the counterfactual protasis, both affirmative (60) and negative (61). Conjunctive auxiliary, too, occurs in both affirmative (57–58) and negative (59) real protasis, but this type of polarity mismatch is reminiscent of directive strategies, where the conjunctive auxiliary can be used in both imperative and prohibitive constructions.

Negation in non-main clauses manifests both constructional and paradigmatic asymmetry. Constructional asymmetry arises from the fact that all non-verbal

predications in the affirmative, with the exception of the presentative construction, are formed with an existential auxiliary and in the negative, with the copula. Paradigmatic asymmetry is manifested by the lack of negative equivalent of presentative constructions. Table 4 compares affirmative and negative non-main clauses.

Table 4: Non-main clauses

	affirmative	negative
sequence, simultaneity	AUX.CJ VB:CJ	AUX.NEG VB
imperfective in relative clauses, focus	AUX.SBJV VB	AUX.NEG VB
directive in dependent clauses, coreferential subjects	VB-GER	yéke AUX.CNJV VB
conditional		
real protasis	AUX.CNJV (VB, (57) or VB.COND ³ , (58))	AUX.CNJV gǝǝ VB-CNTF (59)
counterfactual protasis	AUX.SBJV VB.IRR (60)	AUX.SBJV gǝǝ VB-CNTF (61)
real apodosis	AUX.IPFV VB:IPFV (57)	AUX.NEG VB (58)
counterfactual apodosis	AUX.PROH VB-CNTF (60, 61)	AUX.NEG gǝǝ VB-CNTF (62)

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

There are no other negative lexicalizations other than the negative stative predictor *wó* (§2.3) and the ‘not yet’ particle *néñ* (§2.1).

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Polar questions are formed with the same pattern as the declarative clause but with vowel lengthening at the end. Negation can be contained in the question. Negative response (*kpàāò* ‘no’) indicates the reversal of the polarity value in the question and positive response (*ññ* ‘yes’) indicates its confirmation. In other words, a “no” response to a question with an affirmative construction implies negation (63), while a positive answer to a question containing negation confirms the negation (64).

³Here, a gloss with a colon (vb:IPFV) denotes a tonal form and a gloss with a hyphen (vb-CNTF) denotes a form with a suffix. A gloss with a point (vb.COND or vb.IRR) denotes a complex form consisting of a tonal form and a suffix.

- (63) A: *kō kò nòò kènèi kú-pèlè sèè?*
 1PL.EX 1PL.POSS child.PL small take-INF well.Q

‘Do we treat our small children well?’

B: *kpaāò.*

no

‘No (we don’t treat them well).’ (nat.)

- (64) A: *lèé wii fèlèè?*
 3SG.NEG meat eat.Q

‘She doesn’t eat meat?’

B: *hèhè.*

yes

‘Correct (she doesn’t eat meat).’ (nat.)

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Negative and indefinite quantifiers in Mano belong to the class of determinatives and are always part of a noun phrase. They can be used with generic nouns, such as *mī* ‘person’ or *pē* ‘thing’ (65).

- (65) *yé kò mī dò kōāā kē ŋwó dò kē-piè...*
 when 1PL.IP person INDF 1PL.EX do thing INDF do-INF

‘If we are doing something with someone...’ (lit. ‘We and somebody we do something’) (nat.)

There are four indefinite quantifiers: *dò* which has the same distribution as *gbēē*, but also *dōódōó* and *gbúyù* whose distribution differs in minor details. All of them can be used in affirmative contexts with specific referents, in irrealis non-specific contexts, in conditionals (as in (65)), as well as in negation, indirect (66–67) and direct (68–69).

- (66) *hèhè yí dō ékēá mī dò nū-à lē.*
 1SG.NEG>3SG interior know if person INDF come-GER IDENT

‘I do not know if anybody came.’ (el.)

- (67) *hèhè yí dō ékēá mī gbúyù nū-à lē.*
 1SG.NEG>3SG interior know if person some come-GER IDENT

‘I do not know if anybody came.’ (el.)

Crucially, while *dò* and *gbēē* are used in the context of direct full negation (68), meaning that there does not exist a referent with a property X, *dōódōó* and *gbúú* are used in the context of direct partial negation (69), meaning that there exist referents which do not have a property X.

(68) Direct full negation

mī dò lēé gbāā nū.

person INDF 3SG.NEG NEG come

‘Nobody came.’ (lit. ‘There doesn’t exist a person who came.’) (el.)

(69) Direct partial negation

mī gbúú lēé gbāā nū.

person some 3SG.NEG NEG come

‘Somebody did not come.’ (lit. ‘There exist at least one person who did not come.’) (el.)

The full semantic map of Mano quantifiers based on [Tatevosov \(2002\)](#) and [Haspelmath \(1997\)](#) is given in Figure 1. The Mano data is interesting for the typology of quantifiers as it calls for new contrasts on the semantic map, in addition to full vs partial direct negation: full vs partial comparative and free choice in imperative vs in non-imperative. In addition, the Mano data violates the adjacency principle. On Mano quantifiers, see [Khachaturyan \(2014b\)](#).

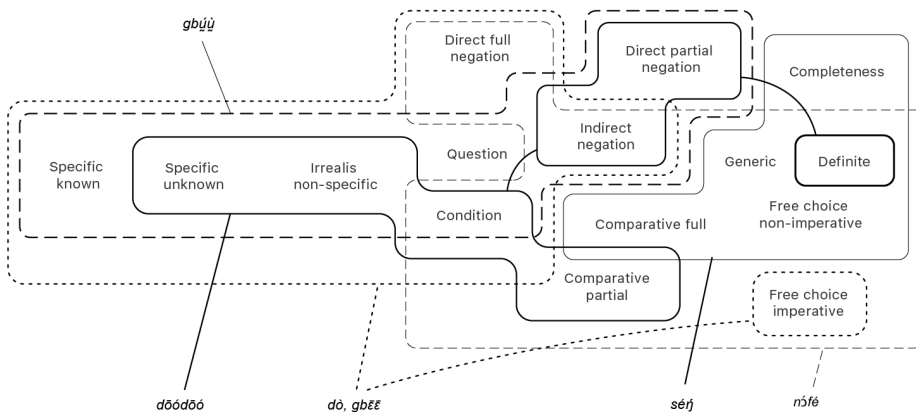


Figure 1: Quantifiers in Mano

Mano also has a dedicated negative quantifier *fěi~fěi* ‘nothing’ which can be reinforced *fěifěifěi* ‘absolutely nothing’. It is used in the contexts of direct full negation (70).

- (70) *fěi wáá kèlè.*
nothing COP.NEG>3SG hand
‘He has nothing.’ (nat.)

Fěi can be used in exclamations meaning ‘nonsense!’ (71).

- (71) *à liī diè nì wáà gèè kééé: fěi!*
3SG elder.sibling EMPH PL 3PL.CJ>3SG say:CJ that nonsense
‘(A child wanted to go fishing with his brothers and sisters.) His elder siblings said: nonsense! (Go back home!)’ (nat.)

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

There is no negative derivation in Mano. There is no dedicated word for ‘without’ either, the meaning is expressed by a periphrastic construction (see (61)).

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 Scope of negation

Focus constructions in Mano (VP, argument focus orthetic constructions) are formed with the marker *lé:* for example, with argument focus, the focalized NP is placed at the beginning of the utterance, followed by *lé:*, followed by the predication where the syntactic position of the focalized constituent is filled with a pronoun (or an auxiliary, in case of subject focalization). Polarity does not have an effect on focus constructions, except for the choice of the auxiliary discussed in §2.3 and §2.4. (72) illustrates focalization in a negative utterance. See also (44), a negative focus construction.

- (72) *Rosalie lé lèé fàā Mado léè fàā.*
Rosalie ATT 3SG.NEG grow Mado 3SG.IPFV grow:IPFV
‘It is Rosalie who does not grow, Mado grows.’ (nat.)

The effects of quantifiers on the scope of negation are discussed in §3.2. The quantifier *dò* is used in contexts of full negation, meaning that there does not exist a referent with a property X, while *dōódōó* and *gbúú* are used in the context of direct partial negation, meaning that there exist referents which do not have a property X.

4.2 Negative polarity items

Negative polarity items include the quantifier *fěi~fěi* ‘nothing’ which can be reinforced *fěifěifěi* ‘absolutely nothing’. See §3.2 for illustrations.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

There are no differences in marking of NPs in the scope of negation. Mano does not have case, so negation does not affect it.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Negation can be reinforced with the quantifier *fěifěifěi* ‘absolutely nothing’. See §3.2 for illustrations.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Clausal coordination in Mano proceeds by coordinating full clauses, there is no argument reduction. Consider coordinated affirmative clauses (73–74).

- (73) *kēē ō dō ō ō kò yà à wì ěě ō ō zò dō*
 but 3PL INDF 3PL.PST 3PL hand sit 3SG under and 3PL.PST 3PL heart install
 à mō.
 3SG on

‘But some of them accepted him and they believed in him.’

- (74) *gō yāā lēē wēē ěě léē ā lēē wēē.*
 man DEM 3SG.IPFV speak:IPFV and woman DEM 3SG.IPFV speak:IPFV
 ‘The man and the woman speak.’ (lit. ‘The man speaks and the woman speaks.’)

Similarly, in negative coordination, the full clauses have to be repeated, there is no ‘neither... nor’ equivalent (75–76).

- (75) *lēē gbā zú é ō kpílì kē, lēē gbā bēē ō bílì*
 3SG.NEG NEG agree 3SG.CNJV 3PL feast do 3SG.NEG NEG too 3PL dead.body
 gē.
 see

‘He neither accepted to organize their funerals, nor saw their corpses.’ (lit. ‘He did not accept to organize their funerals, he did not see their corpses.’) (nat.)

- (76) *donc gɔ́ wɔ́ bē, ɛ́ɛ́ lēē wɔ́ bē kē é lēē*
 so[FR] man COP.NEG EX and woman COP.NEG EX PURP 3SG.CNJV woman
nɛ́fú wē pá gbāā.
 child:CNSTR DEM hit now
 ‘So there is no man nor woman (lit. there is no man and there is no woman) to hit the girl.’ (nat.)

There is no construction for contrastive negation. Again, a full predication must be repeated (77).

- (77) *ɲɲ gbā bū dà mī̀ m̀, wìl lé mā zē ē.*
 1SG.NEG NEG gun fall person on meat ATT 1SG.PST>3SG kill DEM
 ‘I did not shoot at a person but at an animal.’ (lit. ‘I didn’t shoot at a person, it was an animal that I killed.’) (nat.)

There is a dedicated prohibitive particle *yékè*, see §2.2. A dedicated negative auxiliary *gɔ́* is used in conditional clauses, see §2.4.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

This section will focus on the phenomenon known as the reversal of polarity. In informal conversations, especially in questions, affirmative utterances are sometimes used when a negative polarity is intended, and negative utterances are sometimes used when an affirmative polarity is intended. Such pragmatic reversal of polarity can be interpreted as a friendly mockery when the interlocutors have enough common ground to understand that they mean the inverse of what they say. For example, (78) is an affirmative question pragmatically implying a reading that would be a negative declarative with the same content. Conversely, (79) is a negative question pragmatically implying an affirmative declarative reading.

- (78) *zē kónó bɛ́ɛ́, léé tōō?*
 here food too 3SG.IPFV stay:IPFV.Q
 ‘(A woman’s sister in law complains that the former started to prepare a festival dish late. The former woman says:) The food here, does it last?’
 (meaning: of course it doesn’t, it will always be eaten, whenever we cook it).’ (nat.)

- (79) òó gèē zéníí kǎ ló-pèlè Gúù kèè?
 3PL.NEG say still 2PL.EX go-INF Goo isn't.it
 '(A woman observes that her sister in law is preparing to cook fish. She knows that the latter's mother, who lives in the Goo village, likes fish a lot.) Don't they say furthermore that you are going to the Goo village?'
 (nat.)

Negative imperfective constructions are also used as a directive strategy (80).

- (80) báá nō mṓǵ tǵá ĩ lèēē?
 1SG.NEG>3SG give so yet 1SG to.Q
 'Give it to me for now!' (lit. 'Don't you give it to me for now?')

There is a polarity reversal case in conditional clauses, where affirmative counterfactual apodosis which employs a negative polarity auxiliary, namely, the prohibitive. Similarly, affirmative auxiliary, the subjunctive, is used for both affirmative and negative counterfactual protasis. For a fuller discussion, see §2.4.

A paraphrastic directive strategy, where the speaker, instead of issuing a command 'do X', says 'I am not telling you to do X'. could be considered a case of negative transport (see §2.2).

Metalinguistic negation is not covered in this paper because of the lack of data.

5 Summary and conclusions

Negation in Mano is highly asymmetric (in the sense proposed by Miestamo 2005) both because negation involves a change in the TAM constructions (constructional asymmetry) and because the inventory of negative constructions is reduced with respect to the inventory of affirmative constructions (paradigmatic asymmetry). Thus, in declaratives, there is only one negative auxiliary which, combined with different lexical and grammatical means, is used to form constructions of negative habitual, aorist, and perfect, while in the affirmative zone, there are three different auxiliaries used for these purposes. The prospective construction exists only in the affirmative. For negative non-verbal constructions there is only one predicator, the copula *wó*, while affirmative non-verbal clauses contain either an existential auxiliary or either of the three available affirmative predicators *lē*, *wó* or *gè*, and presentative constructions exist only in the affirmative polarity. Yet in non-declaratives, the paradigmatic asymmetry favors the negative domain: there is a periphrastic prohibitive with no imperative equivalent ('I

am not saying that you do X', meaning 'Don't do X') and a dedicated dubitative construction with negative pragmatics.

One of the striking features of negation in complex clauses are constructions used in conditional clauses since they employ a special negative particle *gòú* which is used only in real and counterfactual negative protasis and in counterfactual negative apodosis.

Table 5 summarizes differences between affirmative and negative constructions, focusing on the auxiliaries and predicators.

Another interesting feature concerns quantification. The semantic map of quantifiers in Mano violates the adjacency principle predicted by the quantification typology. Moreover, indefinite quantifiers differ with respect to the scope of direct negation: for some, such as the most commonly used indefinite quantifier *dò*, the whole predication is under the scope of negation ('nobody came'), while for others, such as the quantifier *gbúú*, the negation is partial ('some people did not come').

Mano does not have any negative derivation nor dedicated negative coordinators. Negative polarity items are limited to *fèi* 'nothing'.

More information on negation in Southern Mande languages can be found in Vydrine (2009). On negation, and in particular, negative final particles, in some other Mande languages, see Idiatov (2012, 2015). On negation in several other West African languages, see Cyffer et al. (2009).

Table 5: Auxiliaries and predictors

Marker	Function	Chapter	Examples
Clausal negation			
AUX.NEG	auxiliary series used to negate most verbal predications	§2.1	3, 5, 7, 9, 11, 13
COP.NEG	negative copula used to negate non-verbal predications, including a) imperfective b) resultative	§2.3	26b, 27b, 28b, 29b, 30b, 34, 36, 44 46 48
AUX.PROH	auxiliary series used in prohibitive constructions	§2.2	16
AUX.DUB	auxiliary series used in dubitative constructions	§2.1	20
yékè	clause-linking marker used in negative directive	§2.2	18
ɲɲ gèě	expression used in negative directives (lit.: ‘I do not say’)	§2.2	19
gbā	negative predictor, used in negative aorist and imperfect	§2.1	5, 11, 25
néɲ	negative predictor, used in ‘not yet’ perfect	§2.1	7
gǎǎ	negative predictor, used in a) negative protasis b) negative counterfactual apodosis	§2.4	59, 61, 62 62
Non-clausal negation			
kpàāò	negative interjection, indicates reversal of polarity of the question	§3.1	63
dò, gbēē, dōódōó,	indefinite quantifiers used in particular in negation	§3.2	65-69
gbúú			
fě̀i fě̀i, fě̀ifě̀ifě̀i	negative quantifier (‘nothing’)	§3.2	70
fě̀i	interjection (‘nonsense!’)	§3.2	71

Appendix

Table 6: Appendix 1: Mano auxiliaries

	1SG	2SG	3SG	1PL	2PL	3PL
I existential	<i>ḡ (māā)</i>	<i>ī (bāā)</i>	<i>lē-ē (lāā)</i>	<i>kō (kṣāā)</i>	<i>kā (kāā)</i>	<i>ō (wāā)</i>
II past	<i>ḡ (mā)</i>	<i>ī (bā)</i>	<i>ē (ā)</i>	<i>kō (kṣā)</i>	<i>kā</i>	<i>ō (wā)</i>
III perfect	<i>māà</i>	<i>bāà</i>	<i>āà</i>	<i>kṣāà</i>	<i>kāà</i>	<i>wāà</i>
IV imperfective	<i>ḡḡ</i>	<i>ī (bāà)</i>	<i>lē (léà~làà)</i>	<i>kóò (kóò~kṣà)</i>	<i>kāà</i>	<i>óò</i>
vb conjoint	<i>māà</i>	<i>bāà</i>	<i>āà</i>	<i>kṣāà</i>	<i>kāà</i>	<i>wāà</i>
VI negative	<i>ḡḡ</i>	<i>ī (bāà)</i>	<i>lē (lāà)</i>	<i>kóò</i>	<i>kāà</i>	<i>óò</i>
VII conjunctive	<i>ḡ</i>	<i>ī (bā)</i>	<i>ē (ā)</i>	<i>kó</i>	<i>kā</i>	<i>ó</i>
VIII prohibitive	<i>māá</i>	<i>bāá</i>	<i>āá</i>	<i>kṣāá</i>	<i>kāá</i>	<i>wāá</i>
IX subjunctive	<i>ḡ</i>	<i>ī (bā)</i>	<i>ē (ā)</i>	<i>kò~kàkò</i> <i>(kò~kàkò~kṣà)</i>	<i>kà</i>	<i>ò</i>
X prospective	<i>mòlò~mònò</i>	<i>bòlò</i>	<i>yèlè</i>	<i>kòlò</i>	<i>kàwòlò</i>	<i>wòlò</i>
XI dubitative	<i>māá</i>	<i>bāá</i>	<i>āá</i>	<i>kóò</i>	<i>kāá</i>	<i>wāá</i>

Table 7: Appendix 2: Morphological paradigm of verbs

Basic form	<i>félé</i> ‘become clear’	<i>pā</i> ‘fill’	<i>nià</i> ‘turn’
Imperfective	<i>fèlè</i>	<i>pā</i>	<i>nià</i>
Conjoint form / nominalized form	<i>fèlè</i>	<i>pà</i>	<i>nià</i>
Real protasis	<i>fèléá~fèlá</i>	<i>pāá</i>	<i>niá</i>
Counterfactual protasis	<i>fèlèá~fèlá</i>	<i>pàá</i>	<i>niá</i>
Gerund / Counterfactual apodosis	<i>fèlà</i>	<i>pāà</i>	<i>nià</i>
Infinitive	<i>fèlépèlè</i>	<i>pāpèlè</i>	<i>niàpèlè</i>
Gerund + <i>ká</i>	<i>fèlá</i>	<i>pàá</i>	<i>niá</i>

³The marker in parentheses is a portmanteau marker and represents an auxiliary fused with the non-subject pronoun of the third person singular which can occupy the position of the direct object (in this case, the portmanteau auxiliary will represent the result of the fusion with the direct object), as well as in the position of the possessor of inalienably possessed noun. If a given cell does not contain any marker in parentheses (for example, in the series of the perfect, III, and in the prohibitive series VIII), it means that the marker in the cell can be used in both transitive and intransitive contexts without the pronominalized direct object of the third person singular being made explicit.

Abbreviations

1	first person	IRR	irrealis
2	second person	CJ	conjoint
3	third person	LOC	locative
ATT	attention drawing	NEG	negative
AUX	auxiliary	OPT	optative
BRIDG	marker of bridging	PL	plural
CNSTR	construct form	POSS	possessive
CNTF	counterfactual	PRED	predicative
COND	conditional	PRES	presentative
CNV	conjunctive	PRF	perfect
COP	copula	PROH	prohibitive
DEM	demonstrative	PROSP	prospective
DUB	dubitative	PST	past
EMPH	emphatic	PURP	purpose
EX	existential	Q	question
[fr]	french	RED	reduplication
GER	gerund	REFL	reflexive
H	high tone	SBJ	subject
IDENT	identifier	SBJV	subjunctive
INF	infinitive	SG	singular
INDF	indefinite	VB	verb
IP	inclusory pronoun	VIS	visual
IPFV	imperfective		

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Negation in Afrikaans

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This chapter is a description of negation in Afrikaans. We cover its standard negation construction (*nie*₁ ... *nie*₂ ‘not’), which is used for subordinate clause negation and interrogative negation among other things too, as well as its dedicated strategies for imperative negation (*moenie*₁ ... *nie*₂ ‘don’t!’) and certain types of negative stative predication (*geen* ... *nie*₂ ‘no’). Attention is also paid to phenomena such as negative indefinites (e.g. *nooit* ... *nie*₂ ‘never’), negative polarity items (e.g. *veel* ‘much’), response particles (e.g. the use of *nee* ‘no’ to deny the questioner’s presumed concerns), negative derivation (e.g. *-loos* ‘-less’), the reinforcement of negation (e.g. *glad nie*₁ ... *nie*₂ ‘not at all’) and expletive negation (e.g. in clauses headed by *tensy* ‘unless’).

Keywords: Afrikaans, two-part negation, negative imperative, negative stative predication, negative indefinite, expletive negation.

1 The language

Afrikaans (ISO: [afr](#), Glottocode: [afri1274](#)) is primarily spoken in South Africa and Namibia. It is also the language of small minorities in many other Southern African countries, including Botswana and Zambia, and of immigrant communities in, for instance, Australia, Canada and even Argentina (see [Du Toit 1995](#)). In South Africa, where it is one of the eleven official languages, it is spoken as a first language by approximately 6,740,000 people, making up 12% of the population ([Statistics South Africa 2016](#)), and as a second language by an estimated further ten million ([Webb 2002](#): 78). Afrikaans has a strong literary tradition as well as its own news and media outlets, is widely used in education (although it has been losing ground to English, particularly in the tertiary sector) and has arguably witnessed somewhat of a revival in movies and music in recent times. In Namibia, where it is recognized as one of eight national languages alongside the

official language of English, it is the mother tongue of circa 180,000 individuals or 8% of the entire population (United Nations 2014). It also often serves as the only lingua franca between speakers of other languages.

In genealogical terms, Afrikaans may be described as a sister of Present-day Dutch or, in other words, as Indo-European and (West) Germanic. It is this genus's "contact language par excellence" (McWhorter 2007: 72), though. Arriving in the Cape in 1652, Early Modern Dutch began interacting with the indigenous Khoisan languages (e.g. *dagga* 'cannabis') and with languages like Malay and Creole Portuguese (e.g. *baie* 'a lot, very' and *mielie* 'corn'), spoken by the Asian and African slaves brought to the region (as well as with the languages of other early European migrants, such as French and German). It came in contact with the Bantu languages in the rest of Southern Africa later on (e.g. *babelas* 'hang-over') and has been in a relationship of mutual influence with English since the advent of the British in 1795 (e.g. *worrie* 'worry').

The role that these interactions, especially the initial ones, played in the development of Afrikaans (grammar) has been and remains a topic of much debate (see van der Auwera & Van Olmen 2017: 249, 257–258), mainly as to whether the language is a creole or not. A plausible compromise is that Afrikaans, whose standardization and codification started some sixty years before it became an official language of South Africa in 1925, is the product of two opposing forces. The Dutch spoken and passed on by the people of European descent and serving as the Cape's superstrate formed a more conservative force. A more progressive one, involving morphological simplification and substrate influence, was the Dutch that the Khoi and the slaves learned "imperfectly" and most of them eventually switched to. Actually, the varying impact of Settler Dutch, Khoisan and Malay still manifests itself in the three dialects that are typically distinguished for Present-day Afrikaans – i.e. in, respectively, Eastern Border Afrikaans, Gariep Afrikaans (also known as Orange River Afrikaans) and Cape Afrikaans (for a detailed history of the language, see Van Rensburg 2012). The focus here will be on General Afrikaans (see Van Huyssteen 2020) and the way that it is used both formally and informally.¹

The rest of the present chapter will take the basic facts of Afrikaans grammar for granted (see Donaldson 1993 and Landsbergen et al.'s (2014) Taalportaal website for a comprehensive description). One of these is that the language is V2 in main clauses (and complementizer-less subordinate clauses). This fact means

¹There is evidence of dialectal variation in negation. Roberge (2000: 165), for instance, observes that the second element of the normal two-part negation of the general language "is facultative in Orange River Afrikaans" (see also Stell 2009).

that: first, the finite verb occupies second position, like *het* ‘has/have’ in (1a) or (1b); second, the subject usually precedes it, as in (1a), or immediately follows it if another constituent is in initial place, as in (1b); third, any non-finite verb (or any separable verb particle) appears in clause-final position, like *gesien* ‘seen’ in (1a) or (1b); and, fourth, the object normally occurs between the finite and non-finite slots, like *die kar* ‘the car’ in (1a) or (1b). In subordinate clauses, Afrikaans is SOV, as (1c) shows.

- (1) a. Sy het die kar gesien.
 3SG.F.SBJ have.PRS DEF car see.PST.PTCP
 ‘She saw the car.’
 b. Gister het sy die kar gesien.
 yesterday have.PRS 3SG.F.SBJ DEF car see.PST.PTCP
 ‘Yesterday, she saw the car.’
 c. ... dat sy die kar gesien het.
 COMP 3SG.F.SBJ DEF car see.PST.PTCP have.PRS
 ‘... that she saw the car.’

Another essential fact concerns the general lack of inflection. The language does not indicate case or gender on nouns and, in its pronominal system, such distinctions are restricted to the singular (e.g. *hy/hom* ‘he/him’ and *sy/haar* ‘she/her’ versus *hulle* ‘they, them’). There is differential object marking, though, with the preposition *vir* ‘for’, which seems preferred with proper nouns, optional with human or animate nouns and with pronouns and unacceptable with inanimate nouns. Compare (1a) and (2).

- (2) Sy het vir Henk gesien.
 3SG.F.SBJ have.PRS for Henk see.PST.PTCP
 ‘She saw Henk.’

Inflection is limited in verbs too. They show no agreement and tend to have just a base form and a past participle form (e.g. *gaan* ‘go’, *gegaan* ‘gone’). Only the modal auxiliaries and ‘know’, ‘be’ and ‘have’ (still) have a preterite (e.g. *is* ‘am/are/is’, *was* ‘was/were’). The final two verbs are also the sole ones in the language with a distinctive infinitive form (e.g. *wees* ‘be’, *hê* ‘have’).

Note that all examples in this chapter are based on earlier research, internet queries (for which we used the Google search engine and relied on factors such as context, authors’ names and dates of publication to assess the relevance of the results) and on actual corpus attestations (from the numerous corpora available

and searchable on the [Virtuele Instituut vir Afrikaans](#)'s (2019) corpus portal – with recent data from blogs, books, newspapers and plays, among other things). For reasons of space and presentation, they have, however, typically been shortened and/or slightly altered (though native speakers have always been consulted to check their grammaticality). So most examples are constructed to at least some extent and no reference can/will be provided for them. For examples taken from secondary sources or reproduced verbatim from other sources, we will obviously give precise references.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Negating a declarative verbal main clause is typically achieved through two identical particles, as in (3). The first *nie*, glossed as NEG₁, is clause-medial and comes after the subject, the finite verb slot and, if present, sentential adverbs like *waarskynlik* ‘probably’ in (3a). In focus-neutral circumstances, it precedes the object, as in (3b), unless this object is a pronoun without *vir*, as in (3c). The second *nie* or NEG₂ is clause-final and normally even follows subordinate clauses, like in (3d), and extraposed constituents after the non-finite verb slot.

- (3) a. Die bestuurder-s verkoop waarskynlik nie kaart-jie-s nie.
 DEF driver-PL sell probably NEG₁ card-DIM-PL NEG₂
 ‘The drivers probably do not sell tickets.’
- b. Jy het nie die kar gesien nie.
 2SG.SBJ have.PRS NEG₁ DEF car see.PST.PTCP NEG₂
 ‘You did not see the car.’
- c. Jy het hom nie gesien nie.
 2SG.SBJ have.PRS 3SG.M.NSBJ NEG₁ see.PST.PTCP NEG₂
 ‘You did not see him.’
- d. Ek het nie gesê (*nie) dat die kar stukkend
 1SG.SBJ have.PRS NEG₁ say.PST.PTCP NEG₂ COMP DEF car broken
 was nie.
 be.PST NEG₂
 ‘I did not say that the car was broken.’

The two particles differ from each other in several respects (see [Biberauer & Cyrino 2009](#): 3–4). Only *nie*₁ can be modified, for instance, as in (4a). It is also

*nie*₁ through which negation is primarily expressed: (4a) without *nie*₂, though ill-formed, will still be interpreted as a negative clause. In the same vein, it is *nie*₁ that is replaced when a more emphatic negator is required or a negative indefinite is included. *Nie*₂ stays put in either case, as (4b) shows.² What the markers have in common is the ability to cliticize onto the preceding word in very colloquial language. Example (4c), coming from the hip hop group *Die Antwoord*'s lyrics, is a case in point.

- (4) a. Sy wil (glad) nie eet (*glad) nie.
 3SG.F.SBJ want.PRS altogether NEG₁ eat altogether NEG₂
 'She does not(/NOT) want to eat at all.'
- b. Hy wil niks/geensins eet nie.
 3SG.M.SBJ want.PRS nothing/in.no.way eat NEG₂
 'He does not want to eat anything/at all.'
- c. Ek weet=ie waar ek iss=ie.
 1SG.SBJ know=NEG₁ where 1SG.SBJ be.PRS=NEG₂
 'I do not know where I am.'³

As to (a)symmetry à la Miestamo (2005), this discontinuous two-part negation can be described as fully symmetric. Deleting *nie*₁ and *nie*₂ from the sentences in (3), for example, produces the positive ones in (5).

- (5) a. Die bestuurder-s verkoop waarskynlik kaart-jie-s.
 DEF driver-PL sell probably card-DIM-PL
 'The drivers probably sell tickets.'
- b. Jy het haar gesien.
 2SG.SBJ have.PRS 3SG.F.NSJB see.PST.PTCP
 'You saw her.'
- c. Jy het die kar gesien.
 2SG.SBJ have.PRS DEF car see.PST.PTCP
 'You saw the car.'
- d. Ek het gesê dat die kar stukkend was.
 1SG.SBJ have.PRS say.PST.PTCP COMP DEF car broken be.PST
 'I said that the car was broken.'

²Because of these differences, Afrikaans linguistics tends to analyze *nie*₁ as a negative adverb, i.e. the true negator, and *nie*₂ as a negative particle (e.g. the Taalportaal grammar). A similar distinction can be found in much generative work on the phenomenon (e.g. Oosthuizen 1998).

³<https://l-hit.com/en/433108>, accessed 2021-11-02

Afrikaans standard negation thus exhibits constructional symmetry. There also exist no differences between positive and negative declarative verbal main clauses in, inter alia, finiteness or tense-aspect-mood marking, making *nie*₁ ... *nie*₂ paradigmatically symmetric as well.

The above account of the two particles' distribution needs to be qualified in a number of ways. First, *nie*₂ is ungrammatical when all slots after *nie*₁ are empty and *nie*₁ is in final position (see Biberauer 2007: 31 Afrikaans syntactic haplology mechanism). This situation arises in clauses consisting only of a subject and a finite verb, as in (6a) (which would be interpreted as 'they don't not sing' with *nie nie*). It also occurs in clauses with an additional pronominal object preceding *nie*₁, as in (6b), where the modifier *glad* 'altogether' indicates that the single negator is indeed *nie*₁ rather than *nie*₂. This aversion to consecutive cases of *nie* extends to clauses that might have been expected to end in *nie*₂ *nie*₂. In (6c), for example, one could have envisaged the occurrence of a first *nie*₂ for the main clause negation and a second *nie*₂ for the subordinate clause negation but only one *nie*₂ appears. If *nie*₁ in structures like (6a) and (6b) is substituted by a negative indefinite, as in (6d), *nie*₂ is optional (just like when negative indefinites are used as short replies to questions).

- (6) a. Hulle sing nie (*nie).
 3PL sing NEG₁ NEG₂
 'They do not sing.'
- b. Die kind-ers verstaan my glad nie (*nie).
 DEF child-PL understand 1SG.NSBJ altogether NEG₁ NEG₂
 'The children do not understand me at all.'
- c. Hulle het nie gesê dat jy nie werk nie
 3PL have.PRS NEG₁say.PST.PTCP COMP 2SG.SBJ NEG₁ work NEG₂ NEG₂
 (*nie).
 'They did not say that you do not work.'
- d. Hy eet niks (nie).
 3SG.M.SBJ eat nothing NEG₂
 'He does not eat anything.'

Second, *nie*₂ can be omitted in certain genres. They include poetry, signs and newspaper headlines (see Deumert 2017: 105). The headline from the national news publication *Beeld* in (7) can serve as an example.

- (7) AfriForum mag nie appelleer oor ou vlag.
 AfriForum may.PR.S NEG₁ appeal about old flag
 ‘AfriForum may not appeal about old flag.’⁴

Third, as (8a) shows, *nie*₁ can be left out too, with a very specific effect. According to Biberauer (2007: 5), the difference with the two-particle equivalent (8b) is that, in the former, the object “is necessarily interpreted as old information” while, in the latter, it is “part of the information focus, either independently as new/focused information or as part of an all-rhematic structure”.

- (8) a. Ek ken hier-die boek nie.
 1SG.SBJ know here-DEF book NEG₂
 ‘I do not know this book.’
 b. Ek ken nie hier-die boek nie.
 1SG.SBJ know NEG₁ here-DEF book NEG₂
 ‘I do not know this book.’

Fourth, and finally, in informal language, *nie*₂ sometimes appears ahead of extraposed constituents, especially when they are quite heavy (probably for reasons of processing; see Molnárfi 2001: 117). In such cases, there would not normally be a second *nie*₂ at the end. Compare (9) to (3d).

- (9) Sy het nooit gesê nie dat mens net so gelukkig
 3SG.F.SBJ have.PR.S never say.PST.PTCP NEG₂ COMP human just so happy
 is soos jou ongelukkig-ste kind.
 be.PR.S as 2SG.NSBJ unhappy-SUPL child
 ‘She never said that one is only as happy as one’s unhappiest child.’

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

The negation of interrogatives, which are formed by inverting the subject and the finite verb, is governed by the same principles as standard negation. Consider the respective counterparts of (3b), (3d), (4b) and (6a) in (10) and notice, *inter alia*, the two-part negation in (10a), the truly clause-final position of *nie*₂ in (10b), the replacement of *nie*₁ by a negative indefinite in (10c) and the ungrammaticality of *nie nie* in (10d).

⁴<https://www.network24.com/network24/nuus/hof/afriforum-mag-nie-appelleer-oor-ou-vlag-20190920>, accessed 2021-11-02

- (10) a. Het jy hom nie gesien nie?
 have.PRS 2SG.SBJ 3SG.M.NSBJ NEG₁ see.PST.PTCP NEG₂
 ‘Did you not see him?’
- b. Het jy nie gesê dat die kar stukkend was
 have.PRS 2SG.SBJ NEG₁ say.PST.PTCP COMP DEF car broken be.PST
 nie?
 NEG₂
 ‘Did you not say that the car was broken?’
- c. Hoekom wil hy niks eet nie?
 why want.PRS 3SG.M.SBJ nothing eat NEG₂
 ‘Why does he not want to eat anything?’
- d. Sing hulle nie (*nie)?
 sing 3PL NEG₁ NEG₂
 ‘Do they not sing?’

It should therefore not come as a surprise that interrogative negation is also entirely symmetric. Deleting the two negators in (10a), for instance, results in a sentence with the meaning ‘did you see him?’. As to the type of answer expected, the negative polar questions in (10a), (10b) and (10d) may function in a neutral manner but they are often biased toward a positive answer (see Holmberg 2015: 40).

Imperative negation is more complex. As (11a) and (11b) make clear, the imperative cannot be negated in the standard way. The construction in (11c) is employed instead. It features *moenie* ‘don’t!’ rather than *nie*₁ and has the main verb in the non-finite rather than the finite slot (thus belonging to van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev)’s (2013) [- imperative verb] [- standard negation] type). This loss of finiteness manifests itself here in the behavior of the separable verb particle *weg* ‘away’. In the imperative in (11a), the stem *gaan* ‘go’ is in the finite slot and, hence, *weg* occupies the non-finite slot, just like in declarative main clauses such as (11d). In the negative imperative in (11c), by contrast, *weg* is attached to *gaan*, which the declarative main clause in (11e) indicates is characteristic of verbs in the non-finite slot.

- (11) a. Gaan weg!
 go away
 ‘Go away!’
- b. *Gaan nie weg nie!
 go NEG₁ away NEG₂
 ‘Do not go away!’

- c. Moenie weg-gaan nie!
must.not.PRS away-go NEG₂
'Do not go away!'
- d. Ons gaan 'n bietjie weg.
1PL go INDF little.bit away
'We are going away for a little bit.'
- e. Ons wil nie weg-gaan nie.
1PL want.PRS NEG₁ away-go NEG₂
'We do not want to go away.'

The constructional asymmetry in finiteness (see [Miestamo 2005: 73–96](#)) between (11a) and (11c) can be attributed to the auxiliary origin of *moenie*. This marker is a combination of *moet* 'must' and *nie*₁. In fact, the two components can be separated, for example, by a pronoun without *vir* taking up its ordinary place between the finite slot and *nie*₁, as in (12a). *Moet* can occur on its own as well, when a negative indefinite or an emphatic negator substitutes for *nie*₁, as in (12b). Still, object pronouns without *vir*, which are ordinarily found before the first negator in other clause types (cf. (3b)), actually tend to follow rather than precede it in the negative imperative, facilitating the fusion of *moet* and *nie* in (12c). This fact is suggestive of some degree of univerbation and grammaticalization (for more details, see [Van Olmen 2010: 500–501](#)).⁵

- (12) a. Moet jou nie ontstel nie!
must.PRS 2SG.NSUBJ NEG₁ trouble NEG₂
'Do not trouble yourself!'
- b. Moet niks eet nie!
must.PRS nothing eat NEG₂
'Do not eat anything!'
- c. Moenie hom dood-maak nie!
must.not.PRS 3SG.M.NSBJ dead-make NEG₂
'Do not kill him!'

Moenie can also have a more specific negative imperative sense: when it directly introduces a complementizer clause as in (13a), it expresses the meaning

⁵The fused form is not actually limited to negative imperatives. It can also be used for non-performative expressions of negative obligation such as *Piet moenie worrie nie* 'Pete should not worry'.

‘don’t let’. A function that it does not fulfill is the negation of non-addressee-oriented or “non-canonical” (Aikhenvald 2010: 47) imperatives. They require the auxiliary *laat* ‘let’ and adhere to the standard way of negating, as (13b) illustrates.

- (13) a. Moenie dat hulle jou bang-maak nie!
 must.not.PRS COMP 3PL 2SG.NSBJ scared-make NEG₂
 ‘Do not let them scare you!’
 b. Laat ons (nie) vergeet (nie)!
 let 1PL NEG₁ forget NIE₂
 ‘Let’s (not) forget!’

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Some types of stative predication (see Veselinova 2014: 1386–1389) can only be negated in the standard, symmetric manner. They are equation, attribution and locative predication, as in (14a) to (14c) respectively.

- (14) a. Hy is (nie) my pa (nie).
 3SG.M.SBJ be.PRS NEG₁ 1SG.NSBJ dad NEG₂
 ‘He is (not) my dad.’
 b. Hulle is (nie) braaf (nie).
 textsc3pl be.PRS NEG₁ brave NEG₂
 ‘They are (not) brave.’
 c. Die kar is (nie) in die motorhuis (nie).
 DEF car be.PRS NEG₁ in DEF garage NEG₂
 ‘The car is (not) in the garage.’

The negation of the other types may be similar, as possessive predication in (15a) shows, but it is also possible to use the negative determiner *geen* ‘no’ (or its informal variant *g’n*) instead of *nie*₁. If it precedes an indefinite singular noun phrase, like in (15b), the article ‘*n* ‘a(n)’ from the corresponding positive clause is lost. *Nie*₂ is optional here.

- (15) a. Ek het (nie) ’n foon (nie).
 1SG.SBJ have.PRS NEG₁ INDF phone NEG₂
 ‘I (do not) have a phone.’
 b. Ek het geen foon (nie).
 1SG.SBJ have.PRS no phone NEG₂
 ‘I have no phone.’

This variation is found with proper inclusion too, as in (16), and with locative-existential and purely existential predication, as in (17) and (18) respectively, both of which employ the construction *daar is* ‘there is/are’. Existential predication can also be expressed by *bestaan* ‘exist’, however, and this verb is negated in the standard way, as in (18c).

- (16) a. Henk is (nie) ’n onderwyser (nie).
 Henk be.PRS NEG₁ INDF teacher NEG₂
 ‘Henk is (not) a teacher.’
 b. Henk is geen onderwyser nie.
 Henk be.PRS no teacher NEG₂
 ‘Henk is no teacher.’
- (17) a. Daar is (nie) tran-e in die hemel (nie).
 there be.PRS NEG₁ tear-PL in DEF heaven NEG₂
 ‘There are (no) tears in heaven.’
 b. Daar is geen tran-e in die hemel nie.
 there be.PRS no tear-PL in DEF heaven NEG₂
 ‘There are no tears in heaven.’
- (18) a. Daar is (nie) spok-e (nie).
 there be.PRS NEG₁ ghost-PL NEG₂
 ‘There are (no) ghosts.’
 b. Daar is geen spok-e nie.
 there be.PRS no ghost-PL NEG₂
 ‘There are no ghosts.’
 c. Spok-e bestaan (nie).
 ghost-PL exist NEG₁
 ‘Ghosts (do not) exist.’

According to Donaldson (1993: 413), the two variants are interchangeable but it is likely that, like in other Germanic languages, which exhibit considerable variation in this area, the choice of one over the other is determined by a variety of factors. They include but are not limited to the type of stative predication, the complexity of the verb phrase, the scope of negation, the old versus new information status of the proposition and the conventionalized character of phrases (e.g. Peters 2008, Bordal 2017, Burnett et al. 2018, Wallage 2020). An in-depth study of their potential impact falls outside the scope of the present chapter, though.

Let it suffice to say that the variant with *nie*₁ seems to occur much more often than that with *geen* in Present-day Afrikaans.⁶ This fact is interesting from the perspective of Dutch, where only *geen* is grammatical in possessive predication, proper inclusion and (locative-)existential predication.⁷ The suggestion therefore is that Afrikaans has extended the standard negation pattern to all types of stative predication. Note, finally, that (14) to (18) also demonstrate that no grammatical differences exist between generic and specific predicates or between temporary and permanent property assignment.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Negating subordinate clauses happens in much the same way as standard negation and the negation of stative predication. There are, in other words, no special negators or negative non-finite forms. The subordinate finite equivalents of the standard negation in (3a) and the negated stative predicates in (18a) and (18b) are given in (19). They show that negation is, essentially, completely symmetric here too.

- (19) a. Jy beweer dat hulle (nie) kaart-jie-s verkoop (nie).
 2SG.SBJ claim COMP 3PL NEG₁ card-DIM-PL sell NEG₂
 ‘You claim that they (do not) sell tickets.’
 b. Hulle sê dat daar (nie) spok-e is (nie).
 3PL say COMP there NEG₁ ghost-PL be.PRS NEG₂
 ‘They say that there are (no) ghosts.’
 c. Hulle sê dat daar (geen) spok-e is (nie).
 3PL say COMP there no ghost-PL be.PRS NEG₂
 ‘They say that there are (no) ghosts.’

The word order in finite subordinate clauses is normally SOV, with *nie*₁ (or some negative indefinite or emphatic negator) appearing before the verb and *nie*₂ after the verb. This syntax has as a result that consecutive occurrences of *nie* are impossible. Main clauses with only *nie*₁ thus acquire a second negator

⁶This claim is based on Google searches and an exploratory examination of the Taalkommissiekorpus (Virtuele Instituut vir Afrikaans 2019), a large reference corpus of present-day written language.

⁷As one reviewer rightly points out, Dutch *niet* ‘not’ may still appear with these predication types in contrastive contexts. Taking (16b) as a starting point, if one wanted to communicate ‘Henk is not a teacher but a professor’, one could say *Henk is niet onderwijzer maar professor*. See also §4.1

when they are turned into subordinate clauses. The comparison of (6b) to (20a) can serve as an example. The complementizer *dat* ‘that’ is often omitted, though (see Van Rooy & Kruger 2016), in which case the subordinate clause has V2 word order and *nie*₂ is again blocked, as in (20b).

- (20) a. Ek dink dat die kind-ers my glad nie verstaan
 1SG.SBJ think COMP DEF child-PL 1SG.NSBJ altogether NEG₁ understand
 nie.
 NEG₂
 ‘I think that the children do not understand me at all.’
 b. Ek dink die kind-ers verstaan my glad nie
 1SG.SBJ think DEF child-PL understand 1SG.NSBJ altogether NEG₁
 (*nie).
 NEG₂
 ‘I think that the children do not understand me at all.’

The general requirement for two negators extends to cases where, in the main clause, only *nie*₂ is found because the object is old information, as in (8a), repeated here as (21a). Its subordinate counterpart in (21b) has *nie*₁ coming after the object. When the object is part of the information focus, like in (21c), *nie*₁ precedes it (see Biberauer 2008: 106–107).

- (21) a. Ek ken hier-die boek nie.
 1SG.SBJ know here-DEF book NEG₂
 ‘I do not know this book.’
 b. ... dat ek hier-die boek nie ken nie.
 COMP 1SG.SBJ here-DEF book NEG₁ know NEG₂
 ‘... that I do not know this book.’
 c. ... dat ek nie hier-die boek ken nie.
 COMP 1SG.SBJ NEG₁ here-DEF book know NEG₂
 ‘... that I do not know this book.’

The negation of non-finite subordinate clauses, like that of finite ones, tends to behave in fairly straightforward ways, as (22) makes clear. Of note in (22a) is that *nie*₂ is placed not at the end of the entire sentence but directly after the preposed purpose clause. In (22b), it is the position of *nie*₁ after *om* ‘for’ that makes the subordinate clause negative. If it precedes *om*, it negates the main verb, as in (22c).

- (22) a. Ten einde sak-e (nie) te kompliseer (nie), volg ons die advies.
in order thing-PL NEG₁ to complicate NEG₂ follow 1PL DEF advice
‘In order (not) to complicate things, we are following the advice.’
- b. Sy vra julle om (nie) te sing (nie).
3SG.F.SBJ ask 2PL for NEG₁ to sing NEG₂
‘She is asking you (not) to sing.’
- c. Sy vra julle nie om te sing nie.
3SG.F.SBJ ask 2PL NEG₁ for to sing NEG₂
‘She is not asking you to sing.’

For non-finite complement clauses with bare infinitives, it seems necessary to make a distinction between verbs of perception like *sien* ‘see’ and *hoor* ‘hear’ and verbs like *help* ‘help’ and *leer* ‘teach’. The former can be negated in just one structural way, as in (23a), and it is normally understood as applying to the main verb. To get the (admittedly awkward) interpretation where only the subordinate clause is negated, the negation has to be stressed, as in (23b).⁸ With the latter verbs, as in (23c), the simple addition of *nie*₁ and *nie*₂ produces the same meaning as in (23a), namely the negation of the main verb.⁹ To solely negate the complement clause, the bare infinitive needs to be turned into a *om te* ‘for to’ infinitive, as in (23d).

- (23) a. Ek sien haar (nie) kom (nie).
1SG.SBJ see 3SG.F.NSBJ NEG₁ come NEG₂
‘I (do not) see her come.’
- b. Ek sien haar NIE kom NIE.
1SG.SBJ see 3SG.F.NSBJ NEG₁ come NEG₂
‘I see her not come.’
- c. Dit leer jou nie kop-hou nie.
3SG.N teach 2SG.NSBJ NEG₁ head-hold NEG₂
‘This does not teach you to stay calm.’

⁸The generative literature (e.g. Biberauer & Cyrino 2009: 4) indicates that only *nie*₁ is stressable. The native speakers consulted for the present chapter disagree and maintain that, in particular contexts, like (23b), *nie*₂ is able/needs to be emphasized as well.

⁹In line with the description in §2.1, *nie*₁ follows the pronoun (without *vir*) in (23a) and (23c). *Nie*₁ before *haar* and *jou* would be a marked order. In keeping with the earlier discussion too, *nie*₁ would precede a lexical replacement of these pronouns in (23a) and (23c) and the reversed order would be marked.

- d. Dit leer jou om nie kwaad te word nie.
 3SG.N teach 2SG.NSBJ for NEG₁ angry to become NEG₂
 ‘This teaches you not to get angry.’

See also §3.3 about (non-)finite subordinate clauses introduced by *sonder* ‘without’ and §4.1 about the scope of negation in complex clauses.

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

There are no negative lexicalizations in Afrikaans, with the possible exception of *moenie* ‘must not’, which is discussed in §2.2 (see footnote 5 too). A potential test for the presence of inherently negative verbs such as ‘not exist’, ‘not want’ and ‘not know’ (see Veselinova 2013) would be the compulsory use of *nie*₂ in clauses in which they occur. To our knowledge, no verb exhibits this behavior.¹⁰

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

To disagree with the polarity of a positive polar question like (24), Afrikaans uses the particle *nee* ‘no’. To agree with its polarity, the particle *ja* ‘yes’ is employed. The replies to a negative polar question like (25) are more complex. *Nee* can serve to express agreement with the interrogative’s negative polarity on its own. By contrast, *ja* in isolation will, as Holmberg’s (2015: 143) informant for Afrikaans points out, “almost certainly result in confusion if it isn’t accompanied by some form of disambiguating intonation or other paratactic device which the hearer can draw on to expand ‘yes’ in the required way”. *Ja* as a reply to the negative

¹⁰Oosthuizen (1998: 79) and Biberauer (2008: 116) do mention the ability of verbs with a contradictory meaning such as *weier* ‘refuse’, as well as of intrinsically negative adverbs such as *nouliks* ‘barely’, to be followed by *nie*₂ in colloquial language. Examples like (i) and (ii) are, however, almost consistently judged to be unacceptable by native speakers, as Potgieter’s (2018: 58–60) experimental data shows.

- (i) Ek weier om saam te kom nie.
 1SG.SBJ refuse for together to come NEG₂
 ‘I refuse to come along.’ (Biberauer 2008: 116)
- (ii) Ek kan my nouliks in-hou nie.
 SG.SBJ can.PRS 1SG.NSBJ barely in-hold NEG₂
 ‘I can barely contain myself.’ (Biberauer 2008: 116)

polar question in (25) could, in other words, be interpreted as either ‘the dog is indeed not barking’ or ‘but the dog is barking’.¹¹ Adding *hy blaf (nie)* ‘he is (not) barking’ after *ja* can help to make the reply clearer, though.¹²

- (24) Q: Blaf die hond?
bark DEF dog
‘Is the dog barking?’
A1: Nee.
no
‘No(, the dog isn’t barking).’
A2: Ja.
yes
‘Yes(, the dog is barking).’
- (25) Q: Blaf die hond nie?
bark DEF dog NEG₁
‘Isn’t the dog barking?’
A1: Nee.
no
‘No(, the dog isn’t barking).’
A2: ?Ja.
yes
‘Yes(, the dog is(n’t) barking).’

Interestingly, *nee* does occasionally occur in replies expressing agreement with the polarity of positive polar interrogatives, as in (26). In such cases, it fulfills not its regular function but the intersubjective one of denying the concerns that the addressee is presumed to have. It can even be used in this way in replies to content questions, as (27) shows.

- (26) Q: Is jy okay?
be.PRS 2SG.SBJ okay
‘Are you okay?’

¹¹To express the latter meaning, Dutch has a dedicated particle *jawel* ‘but yes’. There exists no equivalent of this particle in Afrikaans.

¹²Following a reviewer’s suggestion, we also want to mention (*h*)*aikona* ‘no way!’ here. It is a relatively common borrowing from the Nguni languages in colloquial Afrikaans (and South African English) and serves, among other things, to convey shock or disbelief and to express emphatic disagreement.

A: Nee, ek is reg.
 no 1SG.SBJ be.PRS alright
 ‘No, (do not worry,) I am alright.’ (Biberauer et al. 2017: 79)

(27) Q: Hoe gaan dit?
 how go 3SG.N
 ‘How are you doing?’

A: Nee, goed.
 no good
 ‘No, (do not worry,) well.’ (Biberauer et al. 2017: 79)

Another peculiarity of *nee* is its frequent combination with *ja*, as in (28). *Ja-nee* has essentially the same meaning as *ja* in (24) but the sense of agreement is always qualified in some manner (e.g. reluctance, enthusiasm, resignation; see Biberauer et al. 2017: 76–77). It seems to be used more for confirming statements than for replying to questions, though.

(28) Q: Dink jy hier-die boek is belangrik?
 think 2SG.SBJ here-DEF book be.PRS important
 ‘Do you think that this book is important?’
 A: Ja-nee, ek dink so.
 yes-no 1SG.SBJ think so
 ‘Yeah, well, I think so.’

3.2 Negative indefinites

The list of negative indefinites in the language includes *niemand* ‘nobody’, *niks* ‘nothing’, *nooit* ‘never’, *nêrens* ‘nowhere’ and *geen/g’n* ‘no’ (see Huddleston 2010). As discussed in §2.1, they usually take the place of *nie*₁, as in (29a), although they can appear before the finite verb as well. When they do, like in (29b), the clause does not feature *nie*₁ but still calls for the presence of *nie*₂ (see Van Olmen & Breed 2015: 237).¹³ This requirement is relaxed only when the negative indefinite occupies the clause-final position or serves as a short reply to a question. In these circumstances, *nie*₂ is optional, like in (29c). Note also that, in informal

¹³Note, for the sake of completeness, that the slot before the finite verb is not limited to subjects in a V2 language like Afrikaans (see §1). In *ons sal hulle nooit vergeet nie* ‘we will never forget them’(cf. (29d)), *nooit* ‘never’ appears in its “normal” position and the clause conforms to the pattern in (29a). With *nooit* in initial position, as in *nooit sal ons hulle vergeet nie* ‘never will we forget them’, the clause has the same pattern as (29b)

language, negative indefinites can actually co-occur with *nie*₁. Sentences (29d) and (29e) are cases in point (see also Biberauer 2009: 102–103).

- (29) a. Hy wil niks eet nie.
3SG.M.SBJ want.PRS nothing eat NEG₂
'He does not want to eat anything.'
- b. Niemand het haar gesien nie.
nobody have.PRS 3SG.F.NSBJ see.PST.PTCP NEG₂
'Nobody saw her.'
- c. Hy eet niks (nie).
3SG.M.SBJ eat nothing NEG₂
'He does not eat anything.'
- d. Ons sal hulle nooit nie vergeet nie.
1PL shall 3PL never NEG₁ forget NEG₂
'We will never forget them.'
- e. Ons sal niemand nie vergeet nie.
1PL shall nobody NEG₁ forget NEG₂
'We will forget nobody.'

When a negative clause contains multiple indefinites, the first one is normally negative and the subsequent ones non-negative, like *nooit* and *êrens* 'somewhere' or *iemand* 'someone' in (30a) and (30b). Two negative indefinites in the same sentence cancel each other out, in formal language and according to prescriptive tradition. Example (30c) thus receives the interpretation of 'she hurt someone at some point'. Yet, in informal language, it is not uncommon for negation to spread to all indefinites in the clause, without resulting in any mutual cancelation of negative meanings or implying a more emphatic negation. So, colloquially, (30c) signifies the same as (30b). In fact, experimental research by Huddleston & de Swart (2014) indicates that clauses such as (30c) are almost always understood as plainly negative by native speakers.

- (30) a. Hulle gaan nooit êrens kom nie.
3PL go never somewhere come NEG₂
'They are never going to get anywhere.'
- b. Sy het nooit iemand seer-gemaak nie.
3SG.F.SBJ have.PRS never someone pain-make.PST.PTCP NEG₂
'She never hurt anyone.'

- c. Sy het nooit niemand seer-gemaak nie.
 3SG.F.SBJ have.PRS never nobody pain-make.PST.PTCP NEG₂
 ‘She hurt someone at some point.’ or ‘She never hurt anyone.’

The pattern in (30b) occurs much more often than that in (30c), though, at least in writing (see Huddleston 2010: 139). The only exception to this trend is when *g’n* precedes another indefinite. Combinations of *g’n* and a negative indefinite, like in (31a), are more frequent than those of *g’n* and a non-negative indefinite, like in (31b) (see Huddleston 2010: 137).¹⁴ Now consider (31c) and (31d).

- (31) a. Ons het g’n niemand op-getel nie.
 1PL have.PRS no nobody up-count.PST.PTCP NEG₂
 ‘We did not give anyone a lift.’
 b. Ons het g’n iemand op-getel nie.
 1PL have.PRS no someone up-count.PST.PTCP NEG₂
 ‘We did not give anyone a lift.’
 c. Hulle het geen/g’n kind-ers nie.
 3PL have.PRS no child-PL NEG₂
 ‘They do not have any children.’
 d. Ons het geen niemand op-getel nie.
 1PL have.PRS no nobody up-count.PST.PTCP NEG₂
 ‘We did not give anyone a lift.’

As simple negative determiners, like in (31c), *geen* and *g’n* are interchangeable, with the former being the more formal or written variant. In combinations with negative indefinites, as in (31d), however, *geen* is generally considered much less acceptable than *g’n* (see Huddleston 2010: 167, as well as §4.4).

The negative indefinites’ non-negative counterparts – i.e. *iemand*, *iets* ‘something’, *ooit* ‘ever’ and *êrens* – can clearly occur in negative clauses when a negative indefinite is present. On their own, they are essentially restricted to what Haspelmath (1997: 31–52), for his semantic map of indefinites, calls specific-known, specific-unknown, irrealis-non-specific, conditional, question and indirect negation contexts, which are illustrated in (32a) to (32f) respectively.

¹⁴As pointed out in §4.4, *g’n* may also serve as a colloquial equivalent of *nie*₁. With emphasis *onniemand* (31a) can therefore be interpreted as ‘we didn’t NOT give anybody a lift’ as well. Similarly, in the right context, (31b) can function as a strong denial too, meaning ‘we certainly did not give anyone a lift’.

- (32) a. Ek het iemand ontmoet; sy is 'n navorser.
 1SG.SBJ have.PRS someone meet 3SG.F.SBJ be.PRS INDF researcher
 'I met someone; she is a researcher.'
- b. Hy het iemand ontmoet maar ek weet nie wie
 3SG.M.SBJ have.PRS someone meet but 1SG.SBJ know NEG₁ who
 nie.
 NEG₂
 'He met someone but I do not know who.'
- c. Gaan iets lekker-s doen!
 go something nice-GEN do
 'Go and do something nice!'
- d. As jy ooit Potch toe kom, ...
 if 2SG.SBJ ever Potch to come
 'If you ever come to Potch, ...'
- e. Gaan julle êrens heen?
 go 2PL somewhere from.here
 'Are you going somewhere?'
- f. Ek dink nie dat hulle iets gesien het nie.
 1SG.SBJ think NEG₁ COMP 3PL something see.PST.PTCP have.PRS NEG₂
 'I do not think that they saw anything.'

For Haspelmath's (1997) comparative and free-choice uses, the non-negative indefinites need to combine with *enige* 'any', as in (33a) and (33b) respectively (see §4.2 for more about the negative polarity item *enige*).¹⁵

- (33) a. Die seun hardloop vinnig-er as enige iemand anders.
 DEF boy run fast-CMPR as any someone else
 'The boy runs faster than anyone else.'
- b. Hier-die probleem kan deur enige iemand opgelos word.
 here-DEF problem can by any someone solve.PST.PTCP become
 'This problem can be solved by anyone.'

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

It will come as no surprise that Afrikaans, as a language that makes case distinctions in singular personal pronouns only, does not have any "negative case

¹⁵For the contexts in (33), Afrikaans can actually also use the more grammaticalized combinations *enigiets* 'anything at all' and *enigiemand* 'anybody at all'.

marking”. Abessive meaning at the phrasal level is expressed by the preposition *sonder* ‘without’, as in (34a).¹⁶ This marker can also introduce a finite subordinate clause, when followed by *dat*, or a non-finite one, like in (34b) and (34c) respectively.

- (34) a. Ons was sonder kos en water.
 1PL be.PRS without food and water
 ‘We were without food and water.’
- b. Julle het dit gedoen sonder dat julle ons
 2PL have.PRS 3SG.N do.PST.PTCP without COMP 2PL 1PL
 geraadpleeg het.
 consult.PST.PTCP have.PRS
 ‘You did it without consulting us.’
- c. Julle het dit gedoen sonder om ons te raadpleeg.
 2PL have.PRS 3SG.N do.PST.PTCP without for 1PL to consult
 ‘You did it without consulting us.’

Negative derivation is somewhat under-researched in Afrikaans and an exhaustive study of the phenomenon goes beyond the scope of the present chapter in any case. Let the following comments therefore suffice (but see also Van Huyssteen 2019 and the Afrikaans dictionaries available via the *Virtuele Instituut vir Afrikaans* 2019).

The language seems to have a range of negative prefixes at its disposal but few negative suffixes. The affix *-loos* ‘-less’, which turns nouns such as *bodem* ‘bottom’ into adjectives such as *bodemloos* ‘bottomless’, may be the only one – although *vry* ‘free’, which can combine with a noun like *vet* ‘fat’ to make an adjective like *vetvry* ‘fat-free’, could potentially be considered here too. The list of prefixes includes *on-* ‘un-’ and *nie-* ‘not-’, which can attach to both nouns and adjectives without changing their word classes. The former signifies lack of the quality conveyed by the stem. *(On)trou* ‘(un)faithfulness’ and *(on)gesond* ‘(un)healthy’ are cases in point. The latter expresses exclusion from what the stem refers to, like in *(nie-)roker* ‘(non-)smoker’ and *(nie-)christelik* ‘(non-)Christian’. Another prefix, for which it is hard to provide a single translation, is *wan-*. It signifies that what the stem conveys is inadequate or wrong, as in *(wan)besteding* ‘(inappropriate) spending’ and *(wan)smaak* ‘(bad) taste’.

There also exist a number of prefixes that come from other languages. *In-* ‘un-’, for instance, is found with adjectives (and nouns derived from them), like

¹⁶In non-native Afrikaans, *nie*₂ is sometimes added to sentences like (34a).

(*in*)*formeel* ‘(in)formal’, and frequently varies with *on-*, as (*in*)*stabiel* ‘(in)stable’ and (*on*)*stabiel* ‘(un)stable’ show. *Non-* ‘non-’ is attested occasionally too, as an alternative to *nie-*, as in (*non*)*figuratief* ‘(non-)figurative’. Other examples are *kontra-* ‘contra-’ and *anti-* ‘anti-’, in nouns like (*Kontra*)*reformasie* ‘(Counter-)Reformation’ and adjectives like (*anti*)*fascisties* ‘(anti-)fascist’, where they have the meaning of ‘opposed to’. This last marker can express the sense of ‘reverse of’ as well, as in (*anti*)*klimaks* ‘(anti-)climax’. Two more mainly nominal or adjectival prefixes that are borrowed are *eks-* ‘ex-’ and *a-* ‘a-’. The first one, as in (*eks*-)*burgemeester* ‘(ex-)mayor’, means ‘former’ whereas the second one, as in (*a*)*moreel* ‘(a)moral’, signifies unrelatedness to what the stem conveys.

Affixes that seem to operate primarily – though not exclusively – in the verbal domain, finally, are *dis-* ‘dis-’ and *ont-* ‘un-’. The former turns the meaning of a verb into its opposite, as in (*dis*)*kwalifiseer* ‘(dis)qualify’, but is not very productive. The latter has a variety of functions (which will not all be discussed here). It can, for instance, combine with verbs to convey the reverse of their original semantics, as in (*ont*)*laai* ‘(un)load’ and (*ont*)*koppel* ‘(dis)connect’. The prefix may also be attached to a noun, with the resulting verb expressing the act of removing what the stem denotes, as in *ontkurk* ‘uncork’ and *onthoof* ‘decapitate’. It can be employed to derive verbs from adjectives as well. The meaning produced this way is that of undoing the quality conveyed by the stem. *Ontrond* ‘unround’ (e.g. when pronouncing a sound) is a case in point and so is *ontgroen* ‘haze’ (e.g. during an initiation ceremony), i.e. making someone not or less green in the metaphorical sense.

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

If negation has scope over only one constituent, for instance, for contrastive purposes, *nie*₁ and *nie*₂ can just surround the constituent in question, like in (35a). To express such a contrast in a coordination construction, *nie*₁ can move from its ordinary place in (35b) and directly precede the constituent in focus, as in (35c) (see Robbers 1992: 231–232). This change in position has a similar effect in (35d) and (35e).

- (35) a. Adri, nie Daniel nie, is verantwoordelik.
 Adri NEG₁ Daniel NEG₂ be.PRS responsible
 ‘Adri, not Daniel, is responsible.’

- b. Daniel is nie verantwoordelik nie, maar Adri.
 Daniel be.PRS NEG₁ responsible NEG₂ but Adri
 ‘Daniel is not responsible but Adri.’
- c. Nie Daniel is verantwoordelik nie, maar Adri.
 NEG₁ Daniel be.PRS responsible NEG₂ but Adri
 ‘Not Daniel is responsible but Adri.’
- d. Daniel mag dit nie sê nie.
 Daniel may.PRS 3SG.N NEG₁ say NEG₂
 ‘Daniel is not allowed to say that.’
- e. Daniel mag nie dit sê nie.
 Daniel may.PRS NEG₁ 3SG.N say NEG₂
 ‘Daniel is not allowed to say *that*.’

Another area of interest for issues of scope is adverbs (see Biberauer 2008: 122–124). If negation ranges over them, *nie*₁ comes before them, as in (36a). If an adverb has scope over negation, however, *nie*₁ follows it, for which (36b) can serve as a (somewhat marked) example. Not surprisingly therefore, sentential adverbs like *waarskynlik* normally always precede *nie*₁, like in (36c) (*nie waarskynlik* ‘not probably’ would be acceptable, though, when contrasted to *maar beslis* ‘but definitely’).

- (36) a. Hy lag nie altyd vir my grap-pie-s nie.
 3SG.M.SBJ laugh NEG₁ always for 1SG.NSBJ joke-DIM-PL NEG₂
 ‘He does not always laugh at my jokes.’
- b. Hy lag altyd nie vir my grap-pie-s nie.
 3SG.M.SBJ laugh always NEG₁ for 1SG.NSBJ joke-DIM-PL NEG₂
 ‘He always does not laugh at my jokes.’
- c. Hulle kom waarskynlik nie Potch toe nie.
 3PL come probably NEG₁ Potch to NEG₂
 ‘They are probably not coming to Potch.’

A final phenomenon relevant to the scope of negation is the position of *nie*₂ in complex clauses. As mentioned in §2.1, it is usually found at the end of the entire sentence, including any subordinate clause that the negation ranges over – such as the complement clause in (3c), repeated here as (37a), and the relative clause in (37b).

- (37) a. Ek het nie gesê dat die kar stukkend was
 1SG.SBJ have.PRS NEG₁ say.PST.PTCP COMP DEF car broken be.PST
 nie.
 NEG₂
 ‘I did not say that the car was broken.’
 b. Dit is nie die plek waar sy begrawe is
 3SG.N be.PRS NEG₁ DEF place where 3SG.F.SBJ bury.PST.PTCP be.PRS
 nie.
 NEG₂
 ‘This is not the place where she is buried.’

Still, when a subordinate clause falls outside the scope of negation, *nie*₂ appears at the end of the main clause and not at the end of the whole sentence. In (38a), for instance, the subordinate clause provides a “positive” reason for the “negative” state of affairs in the main clause and *nie*₂ occurs before the conjunction *aangesien* ‘because’.¹⁷ Conversely, when the negation applies only to the subordinate clause, *nie*₂ is placed at the end of that clause and not at the end of the complete sentence. In (38b), for example, the main clause makes a “positive” claim, about people who are defined “negatively” in the relative clause, and *nie*₂ occurs after *drink* ‘drink’ rather than *vreemd* ‘weird’. Similarly, when a negative clause is followed by a coordinated positive clause, like in (38c), *nie*₂ is found at the end of the first clause and not at that of the complex clause.

- (38) a. Hy wil nie eet nie aangesien hy siek is.
 3SG.M.SBJ want.PRS NEG₁ eat NEG₂ because 3SG.M.SBJ ill be.PRS
 ‘He does not want to eat, because he is ill.’
 b. Mens-e wat nie drink nie, is vreemd.
 human-PL what NEG₁ drink NEG₂ be.PRS weird
 ‘People who do not drink are weird.’
 c. Sy lees nie boek-e nie en hy is ’n skrywer.
 3SG.F.SBJ read NEG₁ book-PL NEG₂ and 3SG.M.SBJ be.PRS INDF writer
 ‘She does not read books and he is a writer.’

¹⁷The issue of scope with conjunctions meaning ‘because’ is interesting. *Want* ‘because’ is a coordinator and the clause that it introduces therefore always falls outside the scope of a preceding clause’s negation. Only the pattern in (38a) – and (38c) – is possible. By contrast, like *aangesien*, *omdat* ‘because’ is a subordinator and the clause headed by it may be inside the scope of a foregoing clause’s negation in particular contexts. For instance, if one wanted to say ‘he does not want to eat because he is ill but because ...’, the reason would fall within the scope of the main clause negation. In that case, *nie*₂ would follow the first subordinate clause: *hy wil nie eet omdat hy siek is nie maar omdat ...*

See also §2.4 about issues of scope in non-finite subordinate clauses.

4.2 Negative polarity

The inventory of negative polarity items includes the modal auxiliaries *hoef* ‘need’ and *durf* ‘dare’. The former expresses absence of necessity in negative clauses, as in (39a), but can be employed in other negative polarity contexts too, such as polar questions and clauses with the restrictive adverb *net* ‘only’, as (39b) and (39c) respectively show. Its use in a plainly positive clause like (39d) is not grammatical, however.

- (39) a. Ons *hoef* *nie* *die* *wet-te* *te* *gehoorsaam* *nie*.
 1PL need NEG₁ DEF law-PL to obey NEG₂
 ‘We do not need to obey the laws.’
 b. *Hoef* *ons* *die* *wet-te* *te* *gehoorsaam*?
 need 1PL DEF law-PL to obey
 ‘Do we need to obey the laws?’
 c. Ons *hoef* *net* *die* *wet-te* *te* *gehoorsaam*.
 1PL need only DEF law-PL to obey
 ‘We only need to obey the laws.’
 d. ?Ons *hoef* *die* *wet-te* *te* *gehoorsaam*.
 1PL need DEF law-PL to obey
 ‘We need to obey the laws.’

Durf exhibits the same behavior, as (40) aims to suggest: (40a) would be unacceptable without the negators and the conditional in (40b) is yet another type of negative polarity context.

- (40) a. Ek *durf* *dit* *nie* *sê* *nie*.
 1SG.SBJ dare 3SG.N NEG₁ say NEG₂
 ‘I dare not say it.’
 b. As *jy* *durf* *lag*, *moer* *ek* *jou*.
 if 2SG.SBJ dare laugh hit 1SG.SBJ 2SG.NSBJ
 ‘If you dare laugh, I will hit you.’

Another negative polarity item is *veel* ‘much’ (see also Kotzé & Breed 2019). It can appear in the negative clause in (41a) but has to be replaced by *baie* ‘much’ (a borrowing from Malay) in its positive equivalent in (41b) (see Kotzé & Breed 2018). *Veel* serves as a(n often rather marked) negative polar alternative to *baie*,

which is always possible too, in a variety of contexts – such as with count and mass nouns like (41a), with eventive verbs like (41c) and in comparatives like (41d) (see Berghoff 2016: 23–24, the inspiration for the examples). With gradable adjectives, as in (41e), *veel* is simply not acceptable, though.

- (41) a. Daar is nie veel/baie skade nie.
 There be.PRS NEG₁ much damage NEG₂
 ‘There is not much damage.’
 b. Daar is baie/*veel skade.
 there be.PRS much damage
 ‘There is much damage.’
 c. Sy reis nie veel/baie nie.
 3SG.F.SBJ travel NEG₁ much NEG₂
 ‘She does not travel a lot.’
 d. Gys is (nie) veel/baie slim-mer as Piet (nie).
 Gys be.PRS NEG₁ much smart-CMPR as Piet NEG₂
 ‘Gys is (not) much smarter than Piet.’
 e. Jan is (nie) baie/*veel snaaks (nie).
 Jan be.PRS NEG₁ much funny NEG₂
 ‘Jan is (not) very funny.’

Importantly, in (41d), *veel* can even occur without negation. Other positive contexts in which it can be found are the excessive and equative constructions in (42a), where *baie* would be very marked, and questions like (42b) as *hoeveel* ‘how much’, where *baie* is impossible. The likely reason why *veel* is found in these positive environments is that phrases like *te veel* ‘too much’ and *ewe veel* ‘as much as’, which are occasionally joined up in writing, conventionalized as units before it became a negative polarity item (*veel* is not negatively polar in Dutch).

- (42) a. Louise het te(/ewe) veel/?baie geld (as Henk).
 Louise have.PRS too/as much money as Henk
 ‘Louise has too(/as) much money (as Henk).’
 b. Hoe-veel/*-baie geld het jy?
 how-much money have.PRS 2SG.SBJ
 ‘How much money do you have?’

The last item to be considered here is *enige* ‘any’ (see Donaldson 1993: 159–160 too). As mentioned in §3.2, it can appear in Haspelmath’s (1997) comparative and free-choice uses, of which (43a) is another example. It can also occur in conditional, interrogative and indirect negation contexts, like in (43b) to (43d) respectively, but not in specific-known, specific-unknown and irrealis-non-specific ones. Sentence (43e) is a case in point.

- (43) a. Enige student kan hier-die klas-se by-woon.
 any student can.PRS here-DEF class-PL at-reside
 ‘Any student can attend these classes.’
- b. As jy enige vra-e het, is nou jou kans.
 if 2SG.SBJ any question-PL have.PRS be.PRS now 2SG.NSBJ chance
 ‘If you have any questions, now is your chance.’
- c. Lees jy op die oomblik enige boek?
 read 2SG.SBJ on DEF moment any book
 ‘Are you reading any book at the moment?’
- d. Ek dink nie dat julle enige moeite hier-mee sal
 1SG.SBJ think NEG₁ COMP 2PL any difficulty here-with shall
 hê nie.
 have.INF NEG₂
 ‘I do not think that you will have any difficulty with this.’
- e. *Ek het enige boek-e.
 1SG.SBJ have.PRS any book-PL
 ‘I have some books.’

Enige can be attested under direct negation as well. In this context, it acquires the meaning of ‘any ... at all’, though, as (44) shows.

- (44) Ek het nie enige foon nie.
 1SG.SBJ have.PRS NEG₁ any phone NEG₂
 ‘I do not have any phone at all.’

4.3 Marking of noun phrases in the scope of negation

To our knowledge, there are no changes in, for instance, case or focus marking for noun phrases within the scope of negation in Afrikaans. The only exception seems to be when *geen* heads a singular indefinite noun phrase and the article *’n* disappears (see §2.3, as well as Ponelis 1979: 124).

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Afrikaans has various ways of reinforcing negation (see also §4.2 about *enige* under direct negation). One can, for instance, insert adverbs such as *glad* ‘altogether’, *geheel* ‘wholly’ and *hoegenaamd* ‘whatsoever’ before *nie*₁, like in (45a) (see Ponelis 1968: 26). Another strategy is the use of *geensins* ‘in no way’ instead of *nie*₁, as in (45b), or that of *niks* and *nooit*, with their literal meanings still somewhat present, when *nie*₁ would technically have sufficed, like in (45c) and (45d) respectively (see Biberauer 2008: 109–110).

- (45) a. Hy wil glad/geheel/hoegenaamd nie eet nie.
 3SG.M.SBJ want.PRS altogether/wholly/whatsoever NEG₁ eat NEG₂
 ‘He does not want to eat at all.’
 b. Sy wil geensins eet nie.
 3SG.F.SBJ want.PRS in.no.way eat NEG₂
 ‘She does not want to eat at all.’
 c. Hulle het niks verander nie.
 3PL have.PRS nothing change NEG₂
 ‘They have not changed a thing.’ (i.e. ‘They have not changed at all.’)
 d. Hulle is vegetaries; hulle eet nooit vleis nie.
 3PL be.PRS vegetarian 3PL eat never meat NEG₂
 ‘They are vegetarian; they never eat meat.’ (i.e. ‘They do not eat meat at all.’)

In informal language, it is also possible to use *niks* (*nie*) to reinforce negation in circumstances where the meaning of ‘nothing’ is entirely bleached, as in (46). Another option in this register is *g’n* (*nie*) – though not *geen* (*nie*) – but only to strongly deny “an activated, salient, discourse-old proposition” (Huddleston 2010: 3). The dialogue in (47) can serve as an illustration. One more informal strategy involves the collocation *g’n niks* (*nie*),¹⁸ as in (48).¹⁹

¹⁸Note, for the sake of completeness, that this combination can be employed for other purposes than strong standard negation. As Huddleston (2010: 265, 269) points out, *g’n* can also function as a reinforcer of *niks* as a genuine negative indefinite, resulting in the meaning ‘nothing at all’, and as a negator canceling out the negation of indefinite *niks*, producing the meaning ‘not nothing’.

¹⁹As one of the reviewers points out, negation may also be mitigated, of course. One way in which Afrikaans can do this is by putting an adverb like *eintlik* ‘actually’ or *rêrig* ‘really’ after *nie*₁. The mitigated equivalent of (45a) would thus be: *hy wil nie eintlik/rêrig eet nie* ‘he does not really want to eat’.

- (46) Sy is niks (nie) tevrede nie.
 3SG.F.SBJ be.PRS nothing NEG₁ satisfied NEG₂
 ‘She is not remotely satisfied.’ (Biberauer & Cyrino 2009: 11)
- (47) A: Jy is my vriend.
 2SG.SBJ be.PRS 1SG.NSBJ friend
 ‘You are my friend.’
 B: Ek is g’n jou vriend nie.
 1SG.SBJ be.PRS no 2SG.NSBJ friend NEG₂
 ‘I am NOT your friend.’ (Biberauer & Cyrino 2009: 9)
- (48) Dit is g’n niks (nie) so moeilik nie.
 3SG.N be.PRS no nothing NEG₁ so difficult NEG₂
 ‘It is NOT so difficult.’ (Biberauer & Cyrino 2009: 12)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

The way that negation behaves in complex clauses, both coordinate and subordinate ones, has been discussed at some length (see §2.4 and 4.1). Important things to add here are that Afrikaans does not have any special negative subordinators such as ‘lest’ and that the language possesses no dedicated constructions for contrastive negation (see Silvennoinen 2019), to our knowledge. Examples of this last type of negation have been given in (35a) to (35c). Two more comments are in order. First, the special negative coordinator in Afrikaans is *nóg* ‘nor’. As (49a) shows, it does not allow *nie*₂ and, as (49b) makes clear, it can also link phrases and occur only before the second conjunct.

- (49) a. Nóg sy het ons gehelp, nóg haar ma
 nor 3SG.F.SBJ have.PRS 1PL help.PST.PTCP nor 3SG.F.NSBJ mum
 het iets gedoen.
 have.PRS something do.PST.PTCP
 ‘Neither did she help us nor did her mum do anything.’
 b. (Nóg) jy, nóg ek moet gaan.
 nor 2SG.SBJ nor 1SG.SBJ must.PRS go
 ‘(Neither) you nor I should go.’

Second, the language has an intriguing construction where a negative clause is coordinated by *of* ‘or’ with a positive clause and, semantically, the former serves as a restrictive positive subordinate clause for the latter. The literal translation of

(50) is ‘you cannot move or they gossip’ but its meaning is ‘as soon as you move, they gossip’ (see also Poneelis 1968: 29, for further discussion).

- (50) Jy kan nie jou roer nie of hulle skinder.
 2SG.SBJ can.PRS NEG₁ 2SG.NSBJ stir NEG₂ or 3PL gossip
 ‘As soon as you move, they gossip.’ (Poneelis 1968: 29)

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

The phenomenon also known as negative raising is attested in the language, though it does not appear to have been studied in any detail yet. Compare the “non-raised” case in (51a), with the negation in the finite complement clause, with its “raised” counterpart in (51b), where the main verb is negated instead but the meaning is more or less the same. Examples with a non-finite subordinate clause are given in (51c) and (51d).

- (51) a. Ek dink dat ons nie ’n keuse het nie.
 1SG.SBJ think COMP 1PL NEG₁ INDF choice have.PRS NEG₂
 ‘I think that we do not have a choice.’
 b. Ek dink nie dat ons ’n keuse het nie.
 1SG.SBJ think NEG₁ COMP 1PL INDF choice have.PRS NEG₂
 ‘I do not think that we have a choice.’
 c. Ek beplan om nie lank hier te wees nie.
 1SG.SBJ plan for NEG₁ long here to be.INF NEG₂
 ‘I plan not to be here long.’
 d. Ek beplan nie om lank hier te wees nie.
 1SG.SBJ plan NEG₁ for long here to be.INF NEG₂
 ‘I do not plan to be here long.’

An exploration based on Horn’s (1989: 323) and Popp’s (2016: 51) lists of predicates suggests that negative raising can occur with at least: the attitude predicates *die indruk kry* ‘feel, get the impression’, *dink* ‘think’, *glo* ‘believe’ and *hoop* ‘hope’; the perception predicates *klink asof* ‘sound like’ and *lyk asof* ‘look like’; the volition predicates *beplan* ‘plan’ and *wil* ‘want’; and the judgment predicates *aanraai* ‘advise’, *dit is gewens* ‘it is desirable’ and *voorstel* ‘suggest’. More in-depth (corpus) research is needed, though, to get the full picture.

4.6.2 Expletive negation

The literature discusses a number of situations in which negation is overtly expressed but does not actually contribute to the meaning. Verbs with contradictory semantics like *weier* ‘refuse’ and inherently negative adverbs like *nouliks* ‘barely’ have been mentioned in this context. The expletive use of *nie*₂ with such items is, however, almost consistently seen as unacceptable by native speakers (see footnote 10). Expletive negation in conditional clauses with *tensy* ‘unless’ and *voordat* ‘before’ receives a more – though still not generally – positive reception (see Potgieter 2018: 60–63). In informal language, the subordinate clauses in (52) can (but need not) be negated in spite of the fact that their meaning remains positive.²⁰

- (52) a. Jy kan nie gaan voordat jou werk nie klaar is
 2SG.SBJ can.PRS NEG₁ go before 2SG.NSBJ work NEG₁ ready be.PRS
 nie.
 NEG₂
 ‘You cannot go before your work is done.’ (Donaldson 1993: 405)
- b. Tensy jou werk nie klaar is nie, kan jy nie
 unless 2SG.NSBJ work NEG₁ ready be.PRS NEG₂ can.PRS 2SG.SBJ NEG₁
 gaan nie.
 go NEG₂
 ‘Unless your work is done, you cannot go.’ (Donaldson 1993: 405)

Exclamatives are another context where the input of negation, whose occurrence there is widely accepted (see Potgieter 2018: 63–64), is not entirely clear: the cases in (53) are essentially both expressions of, for instance, surprise at or emotion toward a positive state of affairs.

- (53) a. Hoe vinnig gaan die lewe (nie) verby (nie)!
 how fast go DEF life NEG₁ past NEG₂
 ‘How fast life passes us by!’ (Biberauer & Potgieter 2017: 3)
- b. Is dit nie alte fraai nie!
 be.PRS 3SG.N NEG₁ all.too beautiful NEG₂
 ‘Isn’t that beautiful!’ (Biberauer & Potgieter 2017: 3)

²⁰Biberauer (2009: 102) adds that *nie*₁ may not be compulsory in the types of expletive negation discussed so far but that it is yet unclear what the difference is between the cases with *nie*₁ and *nie*₂ and those with just *nie*₂.

In fact, in so-called wh-exclamatives, like (53a), the negation can quite easily be dropped with little change in meaning. The difference has to do with the discourse status of the information. A positive wh-exclamative conveys new information whereas a negative one expresses a reaction to known information. In what are termed polar exclamatives, like (53b), by contrast, the negation is not optional. Deleting it would result in something that looks like an interrogative with an interpretation of ‘is it all too beautiful?’.

In a request such as (54), finally, the addition of negation also has little impact on the act performed with the sentence. It functions as a call on the addressee to close the door with or without *nie*₁ ... *nie*₂. The information’s discourse status is again different, however. With the negation, the information is presented as known, which may make the request more insistent – implying, for instance, that the door should have been closed already. Still, in other situations, it may also have a mitigating effect.

- (54) Kan jy (nie) asseblief die deur toemaak (nie)?
 can.PRS 2SG.SBJ NEG₁ please DEF door close NEG₂
 ‘Could(n’t) you close the door please?’

4.6.3 Diachronic notes and observations

The origin of the two-part negation is a matter of much debate in Afrikaans linguistics, to which the present section cannot really do justice. It will therefore only provide a brief description of this and other diachronic issues and point to some relevant literature. As to the two-part negation (see §2.1), some scholars have argued that it comes directly from particular Dutch dialects with a similar phenomenon while others maintain that it is an innovation of Afrikaans (e.g. *nie*₂ as deriving from a clause-final resumptive negator). Among the latter, there is disagreement about whether its development was autonomous or whether contact with, for example, the indigenous Khoisan languages in the Cape played a role. The evidence for any single one of these positions seems to be quite scarce, however. A fairly comprehensive overview of the entire debate is given in Roberge (2000). Other important references are Den Besten (1986), Bell (2001), Deumert (2017), Van Rensburg (2018).²¹

²¹An issue that, to our knowledge, has not been taken into account fully in the debate about the two-part negation’s origin is the syntactic position of *nie*₁. As one of the reviewers rightly points out, its unmarked position in a clause meaning ‘I have not seen the house’ is before the lexical object *die huis* ‘the house’: *ek het nie*₁ *die huis* gesien *nie*₂. In (Present-day) Dutch, *niet* ‘not’ comes after *het huis* ‘the house’: *ik heb het huis niet gezien*. This difference (possibly of a

There is also some discussion on the origin of *moenie* in negative imperatives (see §2.2). It has, for instance, been argued to be a calque of some eighteenth-century Portuguese Pidgin or Creole construction. It could also be the product of an independent process of grammaticalization for which the politeness strategy of deontic declaratives (i.e. *jy moet nie ...* ‘you should not ...’) was the source. Relevant research includes Den Besten (2004) and Van Olmen (2010).

As regards the negation of stative predication (see §2.3), the comparison with Dutch and German, where the negative determiner construction is the only acceptable option for certain types of stative predicate, suggests that the grammaticality in Afrikaans of *nie*₁ ... *nie*₂ in all types results from an extension of the standard negation construction.

Finally, contrasting the language with Dutch also indirectly supports Donaldson’s (1988: 232) and Hoeksema’s (2010: 843) claim that the use of *enige* in comparative and free-choice contexts (see §3.2 and §4.2) is due to English influence. Unlike *any* and Afrikaans *enige*, Dutch *enig* cannot be used in this way.

5 Summary

Table 1 gives an overview of the most prominent negative constructions in Afrikaans, together with their functions. For details, we refer to the relevant sections in this chapter.

HC: LSP will deal with that table later

Abbreviations

1	first person	M	masculine
2	second person	N	neuter
3	third person	NEG	negation
CMPR	comparative	NSBJ	non-subject
COMP	complementizer	PL	plural
DEF	definite	PRS	present
DIM	diminutive	PST	past
F	feminine	PTCP	participle
GEN	genitive	SBJ	subject
INDF	indefinite	SG	singular
INF	infinitive	SUPL	superlative

diachronic nature) needs to be explained in any scenario linking Afrikaans negation to Dutch negation.

Table 1: Negation in Afrikaans

Construction	Functions	Notes
<i>nie</i> ₁ ... <i>nie</i> ₂ 'not ... not'	standard negation interrogative negation non-canonical imperative negation negation of stative predication subordinate clause negation contrastive negation	<i>nie</i> ₁ is clause-medial <i>nie</i> ₂ clause-final <i>nie</i> ₂ can be omitted in certain, very specific contexts the negation is entirely symmetrical
<i>moenie</i> ₁ ... <i>nie</i> ₂ 'must.not ... not'	canonical imperative negation	the negation exhibits constructional asymmetry in finiteness
<i>moenie</i> ₁ <i>dat</i> ... <i>nie</i> ₂ 'must.not that ... not'	'don't let (someone do something)!'	
<i>geen/g'n</i> ... (<i>nie</i> ₂) 'no ... not'	negation of possessive predication negation of proper inclusion (locative)-existential negation	standard negation is more common in these types of stative predication <i>g'n</i> is the informal variant
<i>nee</i> 'no'	disagreement with positive polar questions agreement with negative polar questions denying a questioner's presumed concerns	
<i>ja</i> 'yes'	agreement with positive polar questions	as a reply to negative polar questions, it is vague vis-à-vis (dis)agreement
<i>ja-nee</i> 'yes-no'	subjectively qualified agreement	
<i>niemand</i> ... <i>nie</i> ₂ 'no-body ... not' <i>niks</i> ... <i>nie</i> ₂ 'nothing ... not' <i>nooit</i> ... <i>nie</i> ₂ 'never ... not' <i>nêrens</i> ... <i>nie</i> ₂ 'nowhere ... not'	negative indefinites	<i>nie</i> ₂ is optional in certain, very specific contexts <i>nie</i> ₂ can be added in colloquial language with more than one indefinite, only the first one is normally negative in informal language, multiple negative indefinites are possible without negations canceling each other out <i>niks</i> and <i>nooit</i> may be used simply to reinforce a standard negation in particular contexts
<i>iemand</i> 'someone' <i>iets</i> 'something' <i>ooit</i> 'ever' <i>êrens</i> 'somewhere'	Indefinites	they require <i>enige</i> 'any' in comparative and free-choice contexts
<i>sonder</i> 'without'	abessive meaning	it can be followed by a noun phrase and a finite or non-finite subordinate clause
<i>-loos</i> '-less'	forming adjectives from nouns, with abessive meaning	
<i>on-</i> / <i>in-</i> 'un-'	lack of quality denoted by stem	<i>on-</i> is more frequent
<i>nie-</i> / <i>non-</i> 'not-' / non-'	exclusion from what stem denotes	<i>nie-</i> is more frequent
<i>anti-</i> 'anti-'	'opposed to', 'reverse of'	
<i>kontra-</i> 'contra-'	'opposed to'	
<i>eks-</i> 'ex-'	'former'	
<i>a-</i> 'a-'	unrelatedness to what stem denotes	
<i>ont-</i> 'un-'	reverse of action denoted by verbal stem removal of referent of nominal stem undoing of quality denoted by adjectival stem	
<i>hoef</i> 'need' <i>durf</i> 'dare'	modal verbs	they can only occur in negative polarity contexts
<i>veel</i> 'much'	negatively polar alternative to <i>baie</i> 'much'	it can also be found in interrogative, excessive and equative constructions
<i>enige</i> 'any'	negative polarity item	it can occur in comparative, free-choice, conditional, interrogative and (in)direct negation contexts
<i>hoegenaamd</i> / <i>glad</i> <i>/geheel</i> / <i>nie</i> ₁ ... <i>nie</i> ₂ 'whatsoever' / alto- gether / wholly not ... not'	reinforcing negation	
<i>geensins</i> ... <i>nie</i> ₂ 'in.no.way ... not'	reinforcing negation	
(<i>nóg</i>) ... <i>nóg</i> ... 'neither 502 or ...'	negative coordination	
<i>tensy</i> 'unless' <i>voordat</i> 'before'	conjunctions with a (potentially) conditional meaning	the subordinate clauses that they introduce may feature expletive negation in informal language

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Negation in Sign Language of the Netherlands

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This chapter addresses negation in Sign Language of the Netherlands, a language in the visual-spatial modality. Throughout this chapter, we will address several aspects of negation that are modality-independent, such as the occurrence of negative particles, but also pay attention to structures that are particular for sign languages, such as the simultaneous use of grammatical non-manual markers. In the introduction, we provide some information on Sign Language of the Netherlands (NGT) in general, and we briefly go into our methodology. Then we continue to describe properties of negation in NGT step by step, based on previous research, but also by providing new data on phenomena that have, until now, not received much attention within the field of sign language linguistics, such as negative transport.

Keywords: Sign Language of the Netherlands, visual-spatial modality, headshake, manual negation, scope

1 The language

Sign Language of the Netherlands (*Nederlandse Gebarentaal*, NGT; ISO: **dse**, Glotto-code: **dutc1253**) is used by at most 10,000 deaf signers (see **Klomp 2021** for more details on these numbers). Additionally, there is a considerable number of (native and L2) hearing signers, including family members of deaf people and interpreters, for example. **Cokart et al. (2019)** estimate the total group of signers in the Netherlands to be 60,000 people. On October 13, 2020, after many years of lobbying (**Cokart et al. 2019**), NGT has been officially recognized as a minority language in the Netherlands.

The origins of NGT lie in Paris, France, where Charles-Michel de l'Épée (1712–1789) was the first teacher of deaf children who systematically used signs in his educational methods. The Dutchman Henri Daniel Guyot (1753–1828) visited the

lessons of De l'Epée and implemented De l'Epée's methods in Guyots' newly founded Dutch school for the deaf in the Netherlands (Tijsseling 2014). In the years that followed, other schools for the deaf opened their doors all across the Netherlands. The schools had different preferences in their methods and language policies: from roughly 1880–1980, signing was discouraged or even forbidden in most schools for the deaf throughout Europe (van den Bogaerde et al. 2016). The emergence and development of NGT had not been documented properly, until the pioneering linguist Ben Tervoort described the signs used by children at the deaf school in St. Michielsgestel as truly linguistic (Tervoort 1953). There are strong indications that children were secretly signing in boarding schools, at home, or with friends at the playgrounds (Tijsseling 2014). Due to the discouragement of signing and the physical distances between deaf schools, there is striking variation in the vocabulary of NGT. We sometimes speak of five “dialects”, referring to the five locations of the former deaf schools, which were situated in the North (Groningen), the South (St. Michielsgestel), the North-West (Amsterdam) and the South-West (Rotterdam and Voorburg); see Figure 1. However, to date, research into the grammar of NGT, which started in the 1980s, has not provided clear evidence of regional grammatical differences.



Figure 1: The locations of the five schools for the deaf in the early 20th century in the Netherlands. © Nederlands Gebarent centrum. Reprinted with permission.

NGT is a comparably well-studied sign language, but its description is an ongoing project. NGT has two common word orders, namely SOV and SVO (van Gijn 2004, Oomen & Pfau 2017). As in any sign language, NGT employs manual and non-manual elements to express meaning. Non-manual elements are linguistic signals produced by the head, face and upper body. The non-manual element that is most relevant for the current chapter is the headshake: a (single or repeated) side-to-side movement of the head that has grammaticalized from the

gestural negating headshake in NGT (van Loon et al. 2014). Another non-manual articulator that will occasionally be mentioned is the mouth, which can produce articulations that are word-like (e.g. the silent articulation ‘if’ accompanying the sign IF), so-called mouthings, and articulations that are not word-like (e.g. the articulation ‘ssh’ [ʃ] accompanying the sign BE.PRESENT), so-called mouth gestures (Bank 2014).

In terms of methodology, we base the descriptions presented in this chapter on earlier corpus research performed by Oomen & Pfau (2017), on additional corpus data extracted for the purpose of this chapter, on previous literature, and on data from several deaf consultants. The corpus data come from the Corpus NGT (Crasborn et al. 2008), in which, in its current version, 92 deaf signers (17 to 84 years old) participated. Note, however, that only about 16% of the corpus is annotated for sign glosses, and about 9% for Dutch translations – i.e. only a small part of the data allows for automatic searches. The deaf consultants varied in age, gender and language background (e.g. at which age they acquired NGT and which variant they use), but all indicated that NGT is their first and most-used language.

The structure of this paper follows the structure of the questionnaire for describing the negation system of a language presented in the volume in which this article appears (Miestamo 2025).

Before embarking on our description of NGT negation, we wish to point out that negation, unlike many other domains of grammar, is a topic which has been relatively well described for a considerable number of sign languages; see e.g. Zeshan (2004) for a typological survey of negative constructions in 37 different sign languages, and Quer (2012) and Gökgöz (2021) for comprehensive overviews. From the body of work that is already available, it is abundantly clear that – just like in spoken languages – there is considerable variation in how negation is expressed in different sign languages. We therefore remind the reader that the observations and patterns reported in this chapter are specific to NGT and should thus not be assumed to apply across sign languages.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Similar to what has been described for many other sign languages, the realization of standard negation in NGT involves two types of markers. Firstly, a side-to-side headshake is used as an obligatory non-manual marker, which simultaneously accompanies (part of) the negated clause. Secondly, there are manual markers,

the most common one being the particle NOT1, which is articulated with a handshape with extended index finger performing a single sideward movement in front of the signer's body (see Figure 2(a)). Alternatively, the negator NOT2 may be used, which involves the same movement but a handshape with all fingers extended (see Figure 2(b)). The forms may be articulated with one or two hands moving outward to the side.¹



(a) NOT1



(b) NOT2

Figure 2: Two manual signs that may function as basic clause negators in NGT. Video stills from the Corpus NGT.

Considering first the manual particles, it has been observed that they can occur in two positions in the clause, either directly preceding the verb phrase or in clause-final position, the latter position being the more common one (Oomen & Pfau 2017, Oomen et al. 2018). Crucially, the different positions do not trigger interpretive differences, that is, differences in the scope of negation (see further §4.1). The two options regarding the placement of NOT are illustrated in (1a) and (1b) (Oomen & Pfau 2017: 21, 30). The codes following the translations in the examples refer to the corresponding video files in the Corpus NGT and the signer ID; an explanation of the glossing conventions can be found at the end of the paper.

¹In constructed examples and in the running text, the gloss NOT is used as an umbrella gloss for both basic clause negator forms.

- (1) a. INDEX₁ POINT $\frac{\text{UNDERSTAND NOT1}}{\text{hs}}$
 ‘I don’t understand/get the point.’ [390-S019]
- b. $\frac{\text{INDEX}_1 \text{ NOT1 OPINION HAVE INDEX}}{\text{hs}}$
 ‘I don’t have an opinion on that.’ [063-S005]
- c. $\frac{\text{INDEX}_1 \text{ REACT NOTHING1}}{\text{hs}}$
 ‘I don’t react (to it).’ [539-S026]

Occasionally, the n-word NOTHING1 (see Figure 16(c) in §3.2) may be used for standard negation, as, for instance, in (1c) – a pattern that is familiar from spoken languages (Jespersen 1917). From the context in which (1c) was signed, it is evident that the intended meaning was not ‘I don’t react to anything’. At present, it is not clear whether NOTHING1 allows for variable positioning within the clause on a par with NOT, as it consistently follows the verb in the available examples.

This combination of two markers – a manual and a non-manual one – in the expression of standard negation is reminiscent of Negative Concord (cf. split negation in French).² Importantly, however, the use of a manual negative sign is optional in NGT. NGT thus qualifies as a so-called ‘non-manual dominant’ sign language, that is, a sign language in which the non-manual marker is obligatory while the manual negator is optional (Zeshan 2006). In fact, clauses are commonly negated by a headshake only. Oomen & Pfau (2017), for instance, report that 59.8% of the negative clauses they extracted from Corpus NGT are negated by a headshake only (also see Coerts 1992). Two examples are provided in (2). The clause in (2a) displays SOV order, but the verb is followed by a so-called subject pronoun copy, a pointing sign that refers back to the subject (Oomen & Pfau 2017: 23); the constituent order in (2b) is SVO.

- (2) a. INDEX₁ INDEX $\frac{\text{REACT INDEX}_1}{\text{hs}}$
 ‘I don’t react to it/reply to it.’ [539-S026]
- b. $\frac{\text{BOY WATCH TELEVISION INDEX}_{3b}}{\text{hs}}$
 ‘The boy did not watch television’ (Coerts 1992: 218)

²For a discussion of Negative Concord involving two manual negators in NGT, see van Boven et al. 2023.

The fact that headshake alone is capable of changing the polarity of a clause is clear evidence that it is not just a gestural element – as has been claimed for e.g. Australian Sign Language (Johnston 2018) – but rather a functional element that is part of the grammar of the language (Pfau 2015). In addition, while there is some variation in the scope of the headshake, its exact distribution is constrained. The first aspect to emphasize is that there is no one-to-one relation between scope of the headshake, that is, its onset/offset in relation to the manual sign(s) it accompanies, and scope of negation (see §4.1). This is illustrated by the near-minimal pair in (3), two clauses that were articulated by the same signer in close proximity to each other: the scope of the headshake differs in the two utterances, but the scope of negation is the same.

- (3) a. $\text{INDEX}_1 \overline{\text{MAYBE INDEX}_1 \text{ GRASP}}^{\text{hs}}$
 ‘Maybe I didn’t notice (it).’ [069-S005]
- b. $\overline{\text{INDEX}_1 \text{ MAYBE GRASP INDEX}_1}^{\text{hs}}$
 ‘Maybe I didn’t notice (it).’ [069-S005]

As for the scope of the headshake in standard negation, the following observations can be made:

- When NOT is present, it is always accompanied by headshake, see (1);
- The headshake combines with at least the verb, even when the negative particle NOT is used;
- Objects (pronominal and non-pronominal ones) are optionally accompanied by headshake, but they are highly likely to be accompanied by headshake when they follow the verb, as in (2b);
- Subjects tend to be outside the scope of the headshake except when they are pronominal, as in (1b) and (1c);
- Some clause-final signs like subject pronoun copies, as in (2a) and (3b), and the sign PALM-UP (PU) – a multifunctional sign which commonly appears clause-finally – may be accompanied by headshake;
- Clause-initial topics always fall outside the scope of the headshake, as illustrated in (4), where the direct object has been topicalized, marked by means of raised eyebrows (‘re’).

- (4) $\frac{\text{re}}{\text{RED CABBAGE}} / \frac{\text{hs}}{\text{INDEX}_1 \text{ LIKE INDEX}_1}$
 ‘Red cabbage, I don’t like (it).’

Given these facts, it has been claimed that the scope of the headshake, rather than being determined by its semantic scope, tends to align with the prosodic structure of the clause (Oomen et al. 2018). This explains why (i) topics, which constitute separate intonational phrases, are outside the scope of the headshake; (ii) pronominal subjects are more likely to fall under the scope of the headshake, as they are more easily prosodically integrated into the clause (Oomen & Pfau 2017); (iii) headshake may spread onto certain clause-final elements, as these are prosodically light elements (Crasborn et al. 2012).

Based on these patterns, it has been argued by Oomen et al. (2018) that standard negation in NGT involves the combination of (i) an optional negative particle, which is lexically specified for a headshake, and (ii) a non-manual (suprasegmental) affix, the headshake, which attaches to the verb and optionally spreads over prosodically defined domains (comparable to tone sandhi phenomena in spoken language; see Pfau 2016).

Neither in negative clauses containing NOT nor in those without do we observe constructional or paradigmatic asymmetry (Miestamo 2009). As for the former, the marker(s) are simply added to the corresponding affirmative clause, and just as in affirmative declarative clauses, both SOV and SVO order is attested, and pro-drop is commonly observed. As for the latter, inflectional categories on the verb are not influenced by the polarity of the clause (note, however, that inflectional categories that commonly partake in paradigmatic asymmetry, like tense and irrealis, are not marked on NGT verbs).

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

The only sentence type we know of to have a dedicated negative form in NGT is the imperative. Negative imperatives (also called prohibitives) partially show the same marking as negative declaratives, but can also involve a specific prohibitive manual marker and specific non-manual markers – note, however, that this generalization is based on only one small-scale study with data on 27 negative imperatives in NGT. We describe the results of this study (Spruijt 2019) step by step: first, we present the manual markers of negative imperatives; second, we describe the non-manual markers; and third, we address how NGT negative imperatives fit into the classification of prohibitives as proposed by van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev) (2013).

As for manual markers, NGT has the prohibitive particle *PROH*, which can occur in two forms (Figure 3) and always occurs sentence-finally (Spruijt 2019). The forms are similar to *NOT1* and *NOT2* (see Figure 2), apart from the movement: the prohibitive forms in Figure 3 involve a repeated side-to-side movement, while *NOT1* and *NOT2* are articulated with a single sideward movement. The prohibitive marker is optional, and can be observed in prohibitions, negative instructions, and negative recommendations. An example of the latter is presented in (5).

- (5) NOT CHOOSE INDEX₃ *PROH*
 ‘Don’t choose it!’ (Spruijt 2019: 18)³



(a) *PROH1*



(b) *PROH2*

Figure 3: Two variants of the prohibitive marker *PROH* (Spruijt 2019: 18).

In example (5), the prohibitive marker is combined with the basic negator *NOT*. However, *NOT* can also occur on its own in prohibitive contexts, as in (6), which demonstrates the optionality of the prohibitive marker.

- (6)
$$\begin{array}{c} \text{hs} \\ \hline \text{HEY REQUEST} \quad \text{NOT SALT MUCH PUT.IN} \\ \text{sq} \end{array}$$

 ‘Hey, please don’t put in too much salt.’ (Spruijt 2019: 20)

Example (6) is additionally marked by non-manual markers. Firstly, there is a headshake, which is, as mentioned in §2.1, an obligatory marker of sentential negation in NGT. Secondly, the main part of the clause in (6) is accompanied by

³Spruijt (2019) does not specify headshake marking or which forms of *NOT* and *PROH* are used.

squinted eyes, one of the non-manual markers that are specifically found in negative imperatives but not in negated declaratives. Figure 4 illustrates this marker.

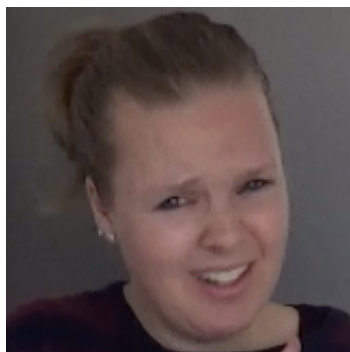


Figure 4: Squinted eyes (adapted from Spruijt 2019: 18).

Other non-manual markers that are associated with prohibitives are furrowed brows (displayed in Figure 3(a) above) and a wide, closed or slightly opened, tensed mouth (visualized in Figures 3(a) and 3(b), respectively). Squinted eyes usually mark the entire sentence, while the scope of furrowed brows and of a tensed mouth varies (Spruijt 2019). The following negative instruction is accompanied by a headshake, furrowed brows, and a tensed mouth.

- (7) TRAFFIC.LIGHT $\frac{\text{hs+fb+tm}}{\text{STRAIGHT.AHEAD PROH}}$
 ‘At the traffic light, don’t go straight ahead.’ (Spruijt 2019: 20)

Interestingly, however, none of the described manual and non-manual markers are obligatory. We now turn to the typological classification of NGT imperatives. The classification of van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev) (2013) captures two morphosyntactic characteristics: whether the sentential negative marking of declaratives is used, and whether the second-person singular verb form is used in imperative contexts. As for the first aspect, we have shown above that NGT can indeed use the same strategy for negative sentential marking in prohibitives as in declaratives. The main marker of sentential negation in both sentence types is the headshake, and there is no clear evidence that there are differences in the occurrence and spreading of the headshake between prohibitives and declaratives. The manual negator NOT is in both cases an optional marker. However, another strategy is to use a dedicated prohibitive marker, which gives rise to an asymmetric pattern. As for the second aspect, NGT verbs do not have

a special form in prohibitive as opposed to positive imperative contexts: it is the regular second-person form which is utilized (see Spruijt 2019).

As such, NGT shows characteristics of both type 1 and type 2 languages in van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev)'s (2013) classification. Type 1 languages use the verbal construction of the second singular imperative and a sentential negative strategy found in (indicative) declaratives, comparable to NGT imperatives without dedicated prohibitive marker. Type 2 languages also employ a second singular imperative construction, but the sentential negation strategy is not found in (indicative) declaratives, as in NGT imperatives with PROH.

2.3 Negation in stative predicates

It has been reported for some sign languages that the position of the manual negator relative to the predicate differs in stative vs. verbal predications (see e.g. Bergman 1995 on Swedish Sign Language and Vogt-Svendsen 2000 on Norwegian Sign Language).

In NGT, most types of stative predications, including predications of proper inclusion, equation, attribution, and possession, do not seem to involve special negation strategies. As in negated verbal predications, the manual negator (if present) in these types of stative predications may occur before (8a) or after (8b) the predicate. As illustrated by the examples in (8), (8c) being an instance without manual negator, the attested headshake spreading patterns in stative predications also mirror those in standard negated sentences (see §2.1).

- (8) a. $\frac{\text{hs}}{\text{NOT DIFFICULT}}$
 '[It] isn't difficult.' [060-S006]
- b. $\text{INDEX}_1 \frac{\text{hs}}{\text{SICK NOT}}$
 'I am not sick.' [476-S024]
- c. $\text{INDEX}_3 \text{ SELF BASIS } \frac{\text{hs}}{\text{STRONG ENOUGH INDEX}_3}$
 'Their basis isn't strong enough.' [386-S019]

Negated locative predications also display regular behavior. NGT, like other sign languages, tends to use classifier predicates to convey locative relations between entities. Classifier predicates are productive complex signs which combine a handshape morpheme representing an entity and a verb stem expressing a location or movement trajectory. For example, in the constructed sentence in (9a),

the signer uses the classifier handshape for thin flat objects to represent a book, and combines it with a short downward movement to demonstrate that the book is located on top of another object, in this case a table. The place of articulation of the classifier predicate aligns with that of the sign *TABLE*. The construction in (9a) may be negated through the addition of a headshake over the predicate (9b). As usual, a manual negator is optional. Figure 5 illustrates the string of signs that make up (9b) in pictures.

- (9) a. $\frac{\text{re}}{\text{BOOK}} \text{TABLE}_3 \text{CLF:FLAT.OBJECT.ON.SURFACE}_3$
 ‘The book is on the table.’
 b. $\frac{\text{re}}{\text{BOOK}} \text{TABLE}_3 \frac{\text{hs}}{\text{CLF:FLAT.OBJECT.ON.SURFACE}_3}$
 ‘The book is not on the table.’

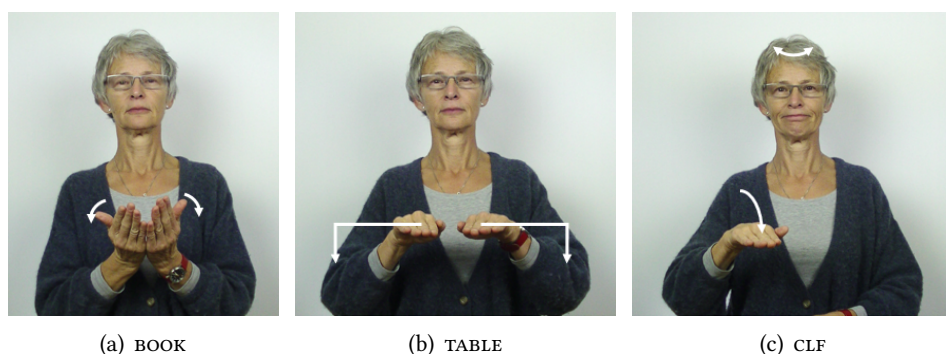


Figure 5: The string of signs from the example in (9b).

Interestingly, existential constructions with a classifier predicate such as (10a), which are otherwise structurally very similar to locative predications, cannot be negated by simply adding a headshake, an observation that implies paradigmatic asymmetry (Miestamo 2009).⁴ Indeed, it is ungrammatical to negate a classifier predicate if the entity the classifier refers to has an indefinite interpretation (10b). Instead, signers opt for alternative strategies. One possibility is the use of the predicate *BE.PRESENT*. This sign can be used in lieu of a classifier predicate in

⁴As far as we are aware, there are no studies that discuss indefiniteness in NGT. As for the locative constructions in NGT under discussion, our consultant indicates that reversal of the figure (*BOOK*) and the ground (*TABLE*), as in the constructed examples in (10), is associated with an indefinite interpretation.

affirmative existential constructions, as illustrated in (10c).⁵ In a negative existential construction, BE-PRESENT is negated like any other predicate, that is, by means of a headshake (10d).

- (10) a. $\frac{\text{re}}{\text{TABLE}_3}$ BOOK CLF:FLAT.OBJECT.ON.SURFACE₃
 ‘There is a book on the table.’
 b. * $\frac{\text{re}}{\text{TABLE}_3}$ BOOK $\frac{\text{hs}}{\text{CLF:FLAT.OBJECT.ON.SURFACE}_3}$
 ‘There is no book on the table.’
 c. $\frac{\text{re}}{\text{TABLE}_3}$ BOOK BE.PRESENT₃
 ‘There is a book on the table.’
 d. $\frac{\text{re}}{\text{TABLE}_3}$ BOOK $\frac{\text{hs}}{\text{BE.PRESENT}_3}$
 ‘There is no book on the table.’

The predicate sign NOBODY.HERE (Figure 6; also see §3.2 on negative indefinites) can also be used in negative existential contexts. It conveys the meaning ‘nobody (is) present/here’ (Nederlands Gebarencentrum n.d.).



Figure 6: NOBODY.HERE. Video still from the Corpus NGT.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Finite and non-finite subordinate clauses are not easily distinguished in NGT, as verbs do not inflect for tense; also, there are no word order differences between main and embedded clauses (as there are in, for instance, spoken Dutch). The

⁵BE.PRESENT may also be used in locative predications.

available evidence strongly suggests that both complement clauses under *know*-type predicates (which commonly take finite complements) and under *want*-type predicates (which commonly take non-finite complements; Noonan 2007) are negated in exactly the same way as main clauses, that is, by the manual negator in combination with headshake, or by headshake only. The latter option is illustrated by the examples in (11).

- (11) a. $\text{MARIJKE INDEX}_{3a} \text{ KNOW / INGE } \frac{\text{hs}}{3b \text{ COME}_{3a}}$
 ‘Marijke_i knows that Inge doesn’t come to her_i.’
 b. $\text{INGE INDEX}_{3a} \text{ WANT / MAN INDEX}_{3b} \frac{\text{hs}}{\text{PRESENT } 3b \text{ GIVE.PRESENT}_{3a}}$
 ‘Inge_i wants the man not to give her_i a present.’
 (adapted from van Gijn 2004: 123f)

Similarly, adverbial clauses do not employ any construction-specific negation strategy either. In (12), we provide examples involving a negative conditional clause (see also Klomp 2019) and a negative cause clause.

- (12) a. $\frac{\text{re}}{\text{IF HEARING.AID}} \frac{\text{hs}}{\text{WORK NOT / PU BACK OLD DEAF PU}}$
 ‘If the hearing aid does not work, you’re back at your old deaf self.’
 [2035-S081]
 b. $\text{INDEX}_1 \text{ DISAPPOINTED / BECAUSE } \frac{\text{hs}}{\text{TEST PASS}}$
 ‘I’m disappointed because I didn’t pass the test.’

Although this section is about non-main clauses, we also briefly have to address the main clause, or rather the main clause predicate, involved in the complex construction. This is of relevance, as it has been observed that in complex sentences in which only the main clause predicate is negated, the headshake may spread over the embedded clause. In other words: the non-main clause appears to be affected by matrix negation even though its polarity is positive, as is illustrated in (13a). Still, as also pointed out by van Gijn (2004), spreading is not obligatory in these cases, as evidenced by the corpus example in (13b) (see §4.6.1 for further discussion in the context of negative transport).

- (13) a. $\text{INDEX}_1 \frac{\text{hs}}{\text{WANT / COME.ALONG}_1}$
 ‘I do not want you to come along.’ (adapted from van Gijn 2004: 113)
 b. $\text{INDEX}_1 \frac{\text{hs}}{\text{SAY NOT / MUST EVERYTHING ORAL}}$
 ‘I’m not saying that everything should be about speaking.’ [429-S022]

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

NGT has verbal and non-verbal negative lexicalizations. The morphological processes that resulted in these lexicalized forms are not always transparent, which sometimes makes it difficult to distinguish cases of cliticization from cases of true negative lexicalizations. We base the categorization of the following lexicalized negative forms on the extent to which they differ phonologically from potential corresponding positive forms.

First, we take a look at the modal verbs that have specialized negative forms. These negatives are the signs $CAN^{\wedge}NOT$, $MAY.NOT$, $WANT.NOT$, and $NEED.NOT$. The first example $CAN^{\wedge}NOT$ (Figure 7(b)) is a result of cliticization, where the manual negator NOT (see Figure 2(a)) has cliticized onto the modal verb CAN (Figure 7(a)).



(a) CAN



(b) $CAN^{\wedge}NOT$

Figure 7: The modal verbs CAN and $CAN^{\wedge}NOT$. Video stills from the Corpus NGT.

The negative modals $MAY.NOT$ (Figure 8(b)) and $WANT.NOT$ (Figure 9(b)) are clearly different from $CAN^{\wedge}NOT$ in that they are phonologically more distinct from their positive counterparts (Figures 8(a) and 8(b)); still they maintain some of the phonological characteristics of MAY and $WANT$, respectively. The sign MAY contains an outward movement, which is maintained in $MAY.NOT$, but the handshape of MAY has changed into the -handshape in $MAY.NOT$. Also note that $MAY.NOT$ in Figure 8(b) is articulated with one hand, making it very similar in form to the basic clause negator $NOT1$ (Figure 2(a)). Often, however, the sign is articulated with both hands, which is not the case for $NOT1$. If we compare $WANT.NOT$ to $WANT$, we observe a handshape change as well, which is furthermore accompanied by a downward path movement instead of the hand-internal

movement in WANT (in which the fingers flex repeatedly). The modal NEED.NOT is a negative lexicalization without a clear positive counterpart.



(a) MAY

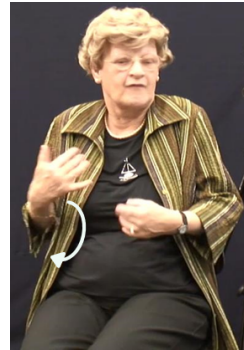


(b) MAY.NOT

Figure 8: The modal verbs MAY and MAY.NOT. Video stills from the Corpus NGT.



(a) WANT



(b) WANT.NOT

Figure 9: The modal verbs WANT and WANT.NOT. Video stills from the Corpus NGT.

It is worth pointing out that naturalistic corpus data suggest that the use of a specialized negative modal, such as the ones illustrated above, is not always obligatory. That is, at least some modal meanings can also be negated using standard negation strategies. In (14), we illustrate this for the modal verb CAN: (14a) exemplifies the use of the negative modal CAN^NOT; in (14b), the base form of the modal combines with the negative particle NOT (and headshake); in (14c), the modal is negated by headshake only.

- (14) a. $\frac{\text{DISABLED MOVE}_3 \text{ CAN}^{\wedge} \text{NOT}}{\text{hs}}$
 ‘The disabled cannot move (to another place).’ [486-S024]
- b. $\frac{\text{SIGN.LANGUAGE CAN NOT1 COMBINE}}{\text{hs}}$
 ‘(You) can’t combine sign language [...]’ [428-S022]
- c. $\frac{\text{CAN IMAGINE INDEX}_1 \text{ THEN}}{\text{hs}}$
 ‘Then I can’t envision it.’ [430-S022]

Another specialized negative verb form, although not modal, is the cliticized form $\text{DO}^{\wedge} \text{NOT}$ (Figure 10(b)).⁶ The handshake of DO (Figure 10(a)) is maintained in the negative $\text{DO}^{\wedge} \text{NOT}$ (Figure 10(b)) but the movement has changed and is now similar to the movement of the particle NOT (but see Klomp (2021) for two alternative analyses).

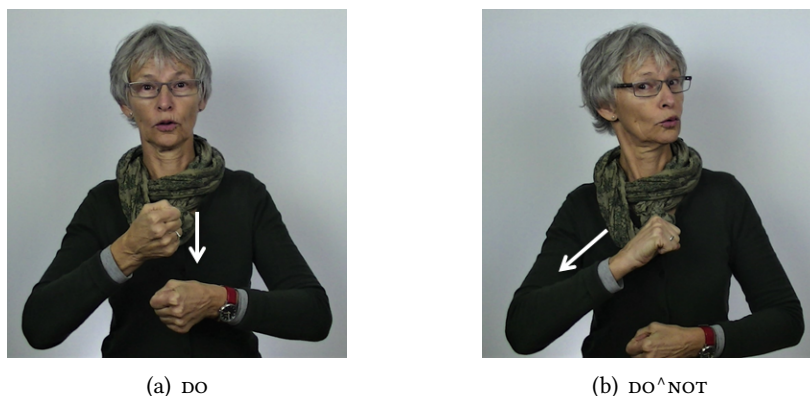


Figure 10: The verbs DO and $\text{DO}^{\wedge} \text{NOT}$.

An example of a non-verbal specialized negative is the adjectival predicate NOT.AWARE . The sign is shown in Figure 11(b), together with the positive predicate AWARE (Figure 11(a)), which has the same initial place of articulation.

Furthermore, NGT employs a dedicated negative construction in perfective / completive contexts. While these aspectual meanings are commonly expressed by the marker ALREADY in affirmative clauses (15), in negative contexts, the marker NOT.YET (Figure 12) is used, as illustrated in (15b). It appears that NOT.YET , just like NOT , may precede or follow the verb.

⁶ $\text{DO}^{\wedge} \text{NOT}$ is a main verb that appears in contexts such as ‘I will (not) do it tomorrow’.

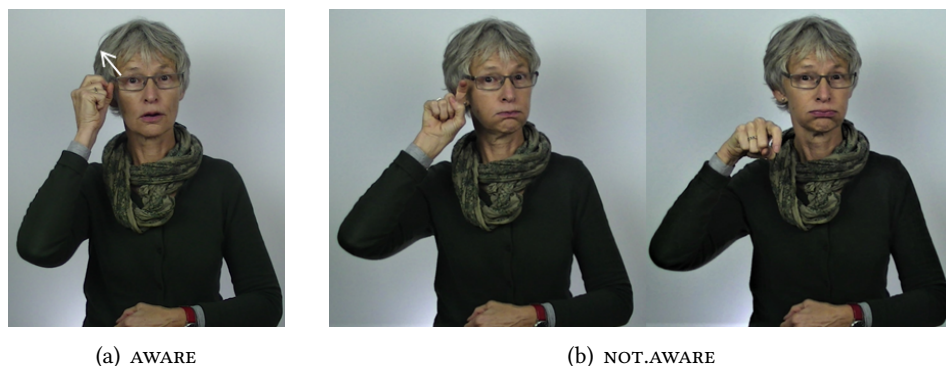


Figure 11: The verbs AWARE and NOT.AWARE.



Figure 12: The negative adverbial NOT.YET.

- (15) a. AIRPLANE 3_a COME₁ ALREADY
 ‘The plane has (already) arrived.’
 b. $\frac{\text{AIRPLANE NOT.YET } 3_a\text{COME}_1 \text{ PU}}{\text{hs}}$
 ‘The plane has not yet arrived.’ (adapted from Coerts 1992: 209)

Let us add one final example of a negative lexicalization, which behaves as an idiomatic clausal construction in NGT: DOES.NOT.MATTER, which translates as ‘[it] does not matter’, involves a repeated alternating brushing movement of the two hands, as shown in Figure 13. In example (16), the sign is used twice.

- (16) $\frac{\text{INDEX}_1 \frac{\text{DOES.NOT.MATTER / DEAF OR HEARING OR BLIND}}{\text{hs}}}{\text{hs}}$
 DOES.NOT.MATTER



Figure 13: DOES.NOT.MATTER

‘To me, it doesn’t matter. Deaf, hearing or blind, it doesn’t matter.’

[061-S006]

On the one hand, the negative lexicalizations reported in this section are known to be cross-linguistically common, both in sign languages as well as spoken languages; they represent senses from a limited set of cognitively salient categories such as modal (e.g. *MAY.NOT*), emotional attitude (*WANT.NOT*), cognition (*NOT.AWARE*), and tense / aspectual meanings (*NOT.YET*) (see [Zeshan 2004](#)). On the other hand, NGT displays a cross-linguistically uncommon feature in that there is no general lexicalized negative existential (but see §3.2 on the sign *NO-BODY.HERE*). This is unexpected, since negative existentials appear first on the hierarchy of lexicalized negative expressions ([Veselinova 2013](#)).

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

There are several ways to give a negative reply to a polar question. First of all, the non-manual headshake by itself is a legitimate negative reply. As for manual options, there is much variation. We attested the following ways to sign ‘no’:

1. A sign identical to the negative particle *NOT1* (see §2.1), which we gloss here *NO1* for the sake of convenience. It is articulated with one or two hands, with the index finger extended, making an outward movement. This movement may be singular, or it may be a bidirectional repeated movement.
2. The sign *NO2*, where one or two hands have all fingers and thumb extended and make an outward movement. This movement may be singular or it may be a bidirectional repeated movement. In repeated form, it is identical to the prohibitive marker *PROH1* (see §2.2).

3. The sign NO3, where one hand has the index- and middle-finger extended, as in the manual letter 'n', and makes an outward movement; see Figure 14.
4. Sideward fingerspelling of the Dutch word *nee* ('no'), with the hand palm pointing towards the addressee.
5. Fingerspelling of the 'n' and a single 'e', with palm pointing upwards and the hand moving away from the signer.



Figure 14: The sign NO3.

All these negative replies express negation of the content of a question. Whether they can also be used to negate the polarity of a question is still open for research. As for the distribution of the various signs, it is not known whether manual replies are more frequent than only non-manual replies.

Compared to the six available possibilities for negative replies, the options to provide a positive reply are limited. Here, the options are firstly non-manual through a (repeated) head nod, and secondly manual, either through the very frequently used sign YES1 (Figure 15) or a less common sign, in which the -handshape is used and the wrist is flexed (YES2). There is no fingerspelled option, although it must be noted that the handshape in YES1 and YES2 is the result of assimilation of fingerspelling the letters 'j' () and 'a' () , which form the Dutch word *ja* ('yes').

Thus, the non-manual options for negative and positive replies are both articulated by the head. The manual options, however, are quite different: whereas the negative reply has five different options available, of which three are based on fingerspelling, the affirmative reply only has two, which both derived from fingerspelling but are conventionalized signs now.



Figure 15: The sign YES1. Video still from the Corpus NGT.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

There are three main signs which function as negative indefinites in NGT, and which are always accompanied by a headshake. The form glossed as NEG.INDF1, depicted in Figure 16(a), is a general negative indefinite and can convey the meanings ‘nothing’, ‘nobody’, ‘never’, and ‘nowhere’. An accompanying mouthing may distinguish between meanings. When used with the meaning ‘nobody’ or ‘nothing’, the sign occurs in argument position, i.e. sentence-initially in the case of a subject, or pre- or postverbally in the case of an object (17a).⁷ When used as a negative adverbial, the sign typically comes after the subject but before the predicate (17b).



(a) NEG.INDF1



(b) NEG.INDF2



(c) NOTHING1

Figure 16: Three negative indefinites in NGT. Video stills from the Corpus NGT.

⁷The final INDEX (‘there’) in (17a) is signed with the non-dominant hand.

- (17) a. $\frac{\text{INDEX}_a \text{ NEG.INDF1 SEE INDEX}}{\text{hs}}$
 ‘He didn’t see anybody there.’ [704-S034]
- b. $\text{INDEX}_1 \text{ SELF SEE PERSON} / \text{INDEX}_a \frac{\text{NEG.INDF1 DEAF MEET}}{\text{hs}}$
 ‘I once saw a person who had never met a deaf person.’ [062-S005]

The sign NEG.INDF2 (Figure 16(b)) is a general negative adverbial which may mean ‘nothing’, ‘never’, or ‘nowhere’; again, the mouthing can differentiate more specific meanings. NEG.INDF2 tends to occur before the predicate, although it is also attested in sentence-final position. In the latter case, which often coincides with an increase in the amplitude of the movement of the sign, the adverbial appears to receive emphasis (see §4.4 for a discussion of strategies for reinforcing negation).

Another commonly attested negative indefinite sign is NOTHING1 in Figure 16(c), which is articulated with the index, middle or ring finger repeatedly being released by the thumb. The sign may occur pre- or postverbally. As noted in §2.1, NOTHING1 is sometimes also used as a basic clause negator.

Several other forms, often articulatorily similar to the signs illustrated in Figure 16, are also attested in (variants of) NGT, albeit less frequently. Also recall from §2.5 that the sign NOBODY.HERE can be used predicatively with the meaning ‘nobody (is) here’. As such, it can be considered to be an indefinite predicate.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

NGT does not have case marking, but, unlike many sign languages studied so far, NGT has two derivational manual negative affixes (Klomp 2021). One is a prefix and the other a suffix, and both are loan elements from Dutch. The prefix is glossed as UN- and it is articulated with an index finger on the nose. Although the signed prefix occurs much less frequently than the corresponding Dutch prefix ‘on-’, its use is actually quite similar to the Dutch prefix, meaning that it mainly combines with adjectives, adverbials, and some verbs. There is great variety among signers in using UN- productively – it is frequently used in the Groningen region, but still, some signers do not consider the element really part of NGT, since it is derived from sign-supported Dutch. However, the combination illustrated in Figure 17, which shows the sign UN-DEEP ‘shallow’, was judged to be natural and acceptable by five consultants.

Another case is the negative suffix -LESS (Klomp 2021). This suffix attaches to nouns and changes the word class from noun to adjective/adverbial. It is not used



Figure 17: The sign UN-DEEP ‘shallow’. Video stills from the Corpus NGT.

productively, but it occurs in specific lexemes that are loan words from Dutch, such as WORTH-LESS or ROOF-LESS ‘homeless’ (Figure 18).

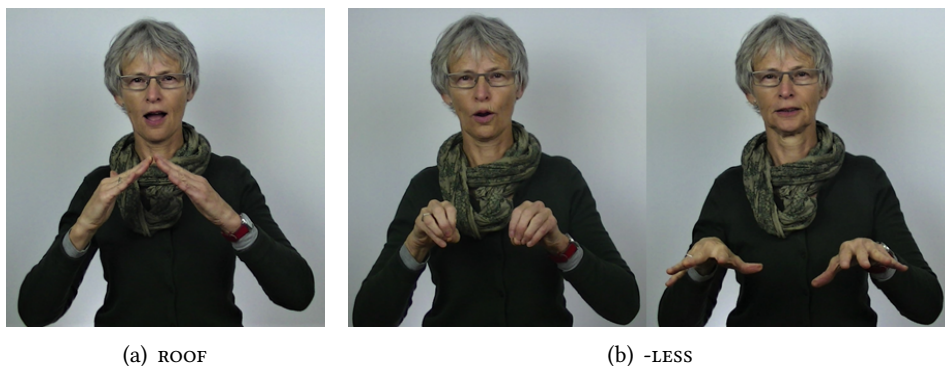


Figure 18: The sign ROOF-LESS ‘homeless’.

Furthermore, the negating headshake could be analyzed as a non-manual affix (as suggested by Pfau 2016), as it attaches to verbs in a systematic and productive way.

3.4 Other negative constructions/expressions

We are not aware of any other negative constructions or expressions. There is, for instance, no construction corresponding to English *neither... nor*. Future (corpus-based) studies, however, might well uncover such expressions.

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

In fact, to date little is known about how NGT realizes constituent negation. Discussions with a consultant, however, suggest that there are two common strategies for narrowing down the scope of negation onto a specific constituent: (i) by overtly marking contrast, and (ii) by topicalizing that constituent. We consider both options in turn.

In the examples in (18), negation semantically scopes over the subject. Note that, following a prosodic break (indicated by '/'), the signer presents a contrasting noun phrase, which is accompanied by an affirmative headnod, thereby clearly narrowing down the scope of negation. Given what we described in §2.1, two aspects of this example are noteworthy. First, the non-pronominal subject falls under the scope of the headshake. We have argued above that this is uncommon in standard negation, but it may be characteristic for narrow negation on the subject. Second, in this case, the optional negative particle may precede the subject (18a), which is not attested in standard negation, or follow the subject (18b). However, both these aspects require more systematic research in order to determine in how far they are characteristic for subject negation.

- (18) a. $\frac{\text{hs}}{(\text{NOT}) \text{ SISTER } {}_3\text{VISIT}_1} / \frac{\text{hn}}{\text{BROTHER}}$
 'Not my sister has visited me, but my brother.'
- b. $\frac{\text{hs}}{\text{SISTER } (\text{NOT}) {}_3\text{VISIT}_1} / \frac{\text{hn}}{\text{BROTHER}}$
 'Not my sister has visited me, but my brother.'

Constituent negation involving the object or verb is realized in a similar fashion. In both cases, narrow scope on the object (19a) and narrow scope on the verb (19b), the object and the verb are accompanied by the headshake (in this and the following example, we ignore the manual negator NOT because the options with respect to its clausal position are no different from standard negation, i.e. it can precede or follow the VP). Consequently, it is only the contrastive element (object NP vs. verb) that gives away which constituent is negated – as before, this element is accompanied by a headnod (similar results are reported in van der Kooij et al. 2006: 1606).

- (19) a. $\text{INDEX}_1 \frac{\text{hs}}{\text{VEGETABLES BUY}} / \frac{\text{hn}}{\text{FRUIT}}$
 'I didn't buy vegetables, but fruit.'

- b. $\text{INDEX}_3 \frac{\text{hs}}{\text{BOOK BUY}} / \frac{\text{hn}}{\text{STEAL}}$
 ‘He didn’t buy the book, he stole it.’

Besides headshake and headnod, the consultant used further specific non-manual markers to signal the contrast: body leans towards opposing sides (e.g. in (19a), slight lean to the right while signing *VEGETABLES BUY* and slight lean to the left during the articulation of *FRUIT*) and, sometimes, wide eyes to mark focus (on *FRUIT* in (19a) and *STEAL* in (19b)). Thus, it is clear that the realization of constituent negation is supported by non-manuals that are more generally employed to mark contrastive focus (see Crasborn & van der Kooij 2013). As mentioned previously, more research is needed to identify clear patterns with regard to the distribution of non-manual markers in constituent negation.

The second option we identified for marking constituent negation, viz. topicalization, is only available for subjects and objects (and possibly locative/temporal adjuncts), but not for verbs. In this case, the negated constituent – the subject in (20a), the object in (20b) – appears in a clause-initial topic position, where it is marked by a non-manual topic marker, raised eyebrows. In both cases, the topicalized constituent falls outside the scope of the headshake (see (4) in §2.1), but still, topicalization signals that the scope of negation is narrowed down to these specific constituents. As in the examples above, the clause may be followed by a contrasted constituent accompanied by headnod, but – depending on the context – this appears optional; that is, topicalization alone may be sufficient to signal constituent negation.

- (20) a. $\frac{\text{re}}{\text{BROTHER}} \frac{\text{hs}}{\text{VISIT}_1} / \frac{(\text{hn})}{(\text{SISTER})}$
 ‘My brother, (he) didn’t visit me (but my sister did).’
 b. $\frac{\text{re}}{\text{VEGETABLES}} \frac{\text{hs}}{\text{INDEX}_1 \text{ BUY}} / \frac{(\text{hn})}{(\text{FRUIT})}$
 ‘Vegetables, I didn’t buy (but fruit).’

4.2 Negative polarity

No negative polarity items have been identified in NGT.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

As far as we are aware, NPs that appear under the scope of negation do not receive special marking in NGT. As there is no case marking in NGT, no interaction with negation is possible.

HC: @LSP
 do you have
 smaller paren-
 theses so that
 the line above
 is at the same
 height? i tried
 to put the
 parentheses in
 smallcaps but
 that does not
 work, this also
 concerns other
 examples in the
 chapter

Author: Another
 (somewhat con-
 trived) solution
 may be to add
 an invisible
 parenthesis be-
 fore the other
 abbr. (re and
 hs) using the
 phantom com-
 mand, so that
 these lines also
 become raised.
 Relevant for 18
 and 20 only i
 believe.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

There are several strategies to reinforce negation in NGT. One such strategy is the repetition of signs, or using several negating signs in combination. An example from our corpus data is shown in (21).

- (21) SOMETIMES NOTHING₂ LANGUAGE ACQUIRED NOTHING₁ ZERO COMMA ZERO
 ‘Sometimes [they] haven’t acquired a language at all, nothing, completely zero.’ [254-S013]

In this example, two negative indefinites are used together with the phrase ‘zero comma zero’, to emphasize a complete lack of language.

Other reinforcing strategies are of a prosodic nature; these can involve both manual and non-manual signals. As for manual emphasis, a sign can be produced larger and/or more tensed (Klomp 2021). Non-manual emphasis is mainly found in the form of squinted eyes, although this non-manual element probably has a more general use for signaling emphasis; this requires further study. In (22), the sign for ‘nothing’ is marked by squinted eyes, yielding the interpretation ‘completely nothing’. The non-manual signals accompanying the sign are illustrated in Figure 19.

- (22) NEVER THINK PREGNANCY DEAF NEVER PU / THINK ^{sq}NOTHING₁ INDEX₁ PU
 ‘During my pregnancy, I never thought about whether the child would be deaf. I really never thought about it at all.’ [2216-S088]

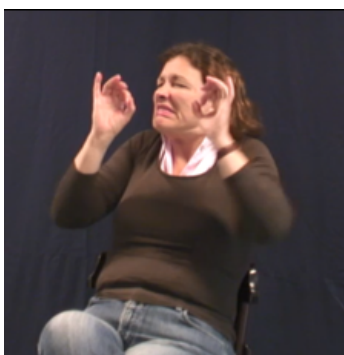


Figure 19: The sign NOTHING₁ from (22) accompanied by squinted eyes. Video still from the Corpus NGT.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

At present, we cannot offer information on specific negation strategies in complex clauses (coordination and subordination) beyond what we have described in previous sections (see §2.4). To the best of our knowledge, NGT does not have dedicated negative conjunctions or coordinators (see §3.4). Constructions used for contrastive negation have been addressed in §4.1.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

NGT allows negative transport readings with certain predicates. A thorough inventory of neg-raising predicates pends further investigation, but at least THINK and EXPECT can be counted among them.

Interestingly, there appears to be a qualitative difference between sentences with and without neg-raising predicates. As reported in §2.4, the headshake may spread from matrix onto embedded clause in complex constructions (see (13), van Gijn 2004). Discussion with two consultants indicates that, crucially, predicate type seems to determine the occurrence of such spreading. More specifically, in negative transport constructions, the headshake may spread over the embedded clause, as in (23a). Narrow spreading over just the matrix clause verb (23b) is also allowed; however, one of the consultants suggested that such constructions have a reading in which the emphasis lies on the matrix clause subject ('I don't think my sister is in love').

- (23) a. INDEX₁ $\overline{\text{THINK} / \text{SISTER INDEX}_3 \text{ IN.LOVE}}^{\text{hs}}$
 'I don't think my sister is in love.' (≈ 'I think my sister is not in love.')
- b. INDEX₁ $\overline{\text{THINK}}^{\text{hs}} \text{ SISTER INDEX}_3 \text{ IN.LOVE}$
 'I don't think my sister is in love.' (≈ 'I think my sister is not in love.')
- c. ?? INDEX₁ $\overline{\text{SAY SISTER INDEX}_3 \text{ IN.LOVE}}^{\text{hs}}$
 'I didn't say my sister was in love.' or 'I didn't say my sister was **not** in love.'
- d. INDEX₁ $\overline{\text{SAY}}^{\text{hs}} \text{ SISTER INDEX}_3 \text{ IN.LOVE}$
 'I didn't say my sister was in love.'

Wide spreading in constructions with standard complement-taking predicates such as SAY, on the other hand, yields ambiguity between a reading in which the

matrix clause is negated and a reading in which both matrix and embedded clause are negated (23c). Moreover, it appears that this ambiguity is partially caused by the fact that there is a strong dispreference in NGT for combining two manual negative markers within a complex sentence. Our consultants indicate that this is perceived as a form of sign-supported Dutch. That is, the latter interpretation would be more appropriate but may be rejected on independent grounds. The preferred way to express matrix clause negation with standard predicates is with narrow scope of the headshake, i.e. limited to just the matrix predicate (23d).

The pattern described above seems to suggest that wide spreading of the headshake with negative transport predicates, as in (23a), serves to signal that the matrix clause negation is interpreted in the embedded clause. As far as we are aware, there are no spoken languages that overtly mark negative transport in any comparable way. For more on Neg-raising constructions in NGT, and two other sign languages, see Oomen et al. 2023.

4.6.2 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

It is interesting to note that one of the markers that is crucial in the expression of standard negation, that is, the headshake, is also occasionally observed in non-negative contexts, for instance to express intensification (i.e. a meaning that could be paraphrased as ‘unbelievable’) or insecurity (e.g. a headshake accompanying a non-negated wh-question). One has to keep in mind, however, that similar uses of the headshake are also attested in spoken languages (McClave 2000, Kendon 2002). Yet, given that in such cases, the headshake appears to be less tightly linked to the syntactic structure of the utterance it accompanies, it is likely that its use is gestural in nature. In contrast, we argued in §2.1 that the negative headshake, as used in NGT, is a grammatical marker – or, to put it differently, a grammaticalized gesture (cf. van Loon et al. 2014, Pfau 2015).

4.6.3 Diachronic notes and observations

Given that NGT does not have a written form, diachronic data with considerable time depth are not available, and it is therefore notoriously difficult to make statements about diachronic changes. Still, two points are worth mentioning. First, it is sometimes claimed that the use of the manual negator NOT (see §2.1) is more common among older signers, while younger signers prefer headshake-only negation. If this is indeed true, then we might be dealing with a change from a split negation system to a system with a single negative marker (cf. Colloquial French). However, the evidence is mostly anecdotal in nature, and therefore, further research is needed to verify this hypothesis. Second, as mentioned in §3.3, at

least one of the two derivational affixes we described is considered old-fashioned by some younger signers. These diachronic changes may reflect changes in the influence of spoken Dutch on NGT, possibly as a result of shifts in educational policies (see [Klomp 2021](#)). After all, both the use of a negative particle and the use of the negative prefix are characteristic of spoken Dutch.

5 Conclusion

The presentation in the previous sections makes clear that NGT, a language in the visual-spatial modality, is not typologically unusual when it comes to the expression of negation. Basically all of the strategies, patterns, and idiosyncrasies we described are also attested in spoken languages, including those compiled in the present volume. In Table 1, we offer an overview of our findings, and we include – to the extent possible – a comparison to spoken languages (for previous attempts at cross-modal comparison, see [Pfau \(2002, 2015\)](#) and [Gökgöz \(2021\)](#)).

HC: @LSP can you check this table?

Table 1: Forms attested in various types of negative constructions in NGT and cross-modal comparison (negative markers are in bold face).

Forms employed	Functions	Cross-modal comparison
- Optional use of negative particles NOT1, NOT2, NOTHING1; at least NOT1 and NOT2 may precede or follow the verb phrase. - Obligatory use of simultaneous non-manual marker (headshake), which accompanies the manual negator (if present) and at least the verb.	Standard negation Non-main clauses	Combination of two elements in standard negation is reminiscent of bi-partite negation; cf. French, where one of the two markers is also optional (see discussion below). Use of standard negation strategies in non-main clauses is attested in many spoken languages (e.g. English, French).
Negators PROH1 and PROH2 may appear in negative imperatives, specifically prohibitives, in clause-final position; however, use of these markers is optional.	Negative imperatives	Reminiscent of languages that do not employ a dedicated strategy for the negation of imperatives.
Same strategies as described for standard negation; negation of classifier predicates requires further study.	Stative predicates	Use of standard negation strategies in stative predicates is attested in many spoken languages (e.g. English, French).
Use of negative lexicalizations (cliticized or suppletive forms) for: - negative modals (e.g. CAN^NOT, MAY.NOT); - the negative predicate NOT.AWARE; - negative perfective/completive NOT.YET.	Negative lexicalizations	Negative lexicalizations in the domains of modality, cognition, and aspect are attested in many spoken languages (but not in Dutch). There is no general lexicalized negative existential, which is cross-linguistically uncommon.
- Multifunctional negative indefinites NEG.INDF1 and NEG.INDF2, which can express the meanings ‘nothing, never, nowhere’, and the former also ‘nobody’. - Negative indefinite NOTHING1 (which is also attested in standard negation – see above).	Negative indefinites	While the use of dedicated negative indefinites is common across languages, the multifunctionality of the signs we identified appears cross-linguistically less common.
Identification of - negative prefix UN-, which combines with adjectives, adverbials, and verbs; - negative suffix -LESS, which combines with nouns.	Negative derivation	Comparable negative derivations are familiar from e.g. various Germanic languages; in fact, the two affixes are loans from Dutch.
Negative transport (NT) is possible with certain cognitive matrix predicates (e.g. THINK , EXPECT ; options for spreading of headshake appear to differ between NT- and non-NT-predicates.	Negative transport	The matrix predicates that allow for NT overlap with those identified for spoken languages (e.g. English); overt marking of NT is, to the best of our knowledge, not attested in spoken languages.

HC: to LSP:
Could you put
a multirow in
the first line,
so that the first
text in the first
column is next
to BOTH Stan-
dard negation
AND non-main
clauses in the
second column?
Thanks!

Our comparison in the third column reveals that corresponding patterns exist, and are indeed for the most part common, in spoken languages. One marker that deserves additional attention is the headshake, as its simultaneous articulation with the proposition that is being negated may, at first sight, appear to present us with a modality-specific phenomenon. However, as already mentioned in passing in §2.1, it has been suggested that (certain) non-manual markers are suprasegmental in nature and thus function like tone in spoken languages. Just like tone, they may be lexically specified for a lexeme or may function as grammatical morphemes (Yip 2002). This also holds true for the headshake. Split negation involving the combination of a negative particle and a tone change (i.e. a featural affix) may be rare in spoken languages, but it is attested.⁸

Much work remains to be done in order to identify further negative elements and strategies in NGT, and to disentangle whether certain elements or constructions cannot be negated.

Acknowledgements

This research was funded by European Commission Horizon2020 grant no. 693349 (Ulrika Klomp and Roland Pfau), Dutch Science Foundation (NWO) grant no. 360-70-520 (Roland Pfau and Marloes Oomen), and a Niels Stensen Fellowship (Marloes Oomen). We would like to thank the participants of the Corpus NGT and our consultants. We are much indebted to Ljuba Veselinova and Matti Miestamo for their constructive feedback on an earlier version of this work. The handshape fonts are created by CSLDS, CUHK.

Glossing conventions and abbreviations

Following common conventions in sign language linguistics, NGT signs are glossed in English words in SMALL CAPS that represent the meaning of the sign but provide no information about its form. Most of the negative signs are therefore illustrated in figures by means of video stills; arrows are added when the movement of the hand is important. When two words are necessary to gloss a single sign, we use a period (e.g. COME.ALONG). A caret indicates cliticization, for instance of

⁸Note that this line of reasoning is based on the premise that the headshake is a grammaticalized gesture (see Pfau 2015). It is important to emphasize again that the same need not be true for all sign languages that employ headshake in the context of negation (see e.g. Johnston 2018: for Australian Sign Language).

a negative sign to a modal verb (e.g. CAN[^]NOT); cliticization is typically characterized by phonological reduction and/or assimilation. The gloss INDEX represents a pointing sign (usually articulated with extended index finger) that fulfills the function of a pronoun. The gloss PU stands for ‘palm-up’, a sign articulated with the palm(s) of the hand(s) facing upwards which has various grammatical and discourse-related functions. A forward slash (‘/’) indicates a clause boundary.

Subscripts that appear on INDEX and certain verbs refer to locations in the signing space: ‘1’ = location close to signer’s body; ‘2’ = location of the addressee; ‘3’ = location in the space in front of the signer (where ‘3a’ is to the right and ‘3b’ to the left). That is, in _{3b}GIVE.PRESENT_{3a}, the verb sign is articulated with a movement from the left side towards the right side of the signing space.

Lines above the glosses indicate the presence of a non-manual marker that simultaneously accompanies manual signs; the length of the line reflects the scope, i.e. the onset and offset, of the marker. The following abbreviations are relevant in the chapter:

non-manual markers		manual markers	
fb	furrowed eyebrows	CLF	classifier
hn	headnod	INDF	indefinite
hs	headshake	NEG	negative
re	raised eyebrows	PROH	prohibitive
sq	squinted eyes	PU	palm up
tm	tensed mouth		

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Negation in Bulgarian

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This article offers an overview of negation strategies in Bulgarian. The language follows several wide-spread cross-linguistic trends: its most general SN marker is a pre-verbal particle; there are several dedicated encodings of the prohibitive; negative indefinite pronouns are abundantly used with predicate negation. In terms of symmetric or asymmetric relations between affirmative and negative statements, we observe symmetric negation in predications set in present and past tense as well as in hortatives. However, there is a constructional asymmetry between affirmative and negated predications in the future tense. In this connection, we should highlight the fact that negation encoded by a complex compound predicate is, in fact, commonly used in Bulgarian. Such encoding includes indicative predications set in the future as well as several variants of the prohibitive. The negative lexicalizations identified in the language fall into known cross-linguistic tendencies, namely lexicalizing of expressions for nonexistence, lack of ability and lack of knowledge. Bulgarian features special emphatic negators *nito...nito* or *ni...ni* which also function as coordinative negators; this trait has been shown to be typologically less common and also contingent on areal distribution. Another characteristic that is perhaps typologically less common is the presence of a special negative question particle *nima*.

Keywords: symmetric and asymmetric negation, negation by particle, negation by complex compound predicate, coordinative negators, negative question particle

1 The language

Bulgarian (ISO: **bul**, Glottocode: **bulg1262**) is a South Slavonic language currently spoken by about 9 million people, out of whom close to 7 million live in Bulgaria. Modern Bulgarian is a direct descendant of Old Church Slavonic and has a long written history, with the Glagolitic script being spread in Bulgaria in the 9th century and with the later creation and maintenance of the Cyrillic alphabet. **Scatton** (1993: 188) summarizes the main periods of the history of the language

Ljuba Veselinova. 2025. Negation in Bulgarian. In Matti Miestamo & Ljuba Veselinova (eds.), *Negation book*, 543–583. Berlin: Language Science Press.

DOI: ?? 

as follows. (i) *Prehistoric period*, which coincides with Proto-Slavic, from the time of the Slavonic invasion of the Eastern Balkans to the Cyrillo-Methodian mission in Moravia in the 9th century. (ii) *Old Bulgarian*, 9th to 11th centuries, recorded in Old Church Slavonic manuscripts. (iii) *Middle Bulgarian*, 11th through the beginning of the 15th century. This period includes the Second Bulgarian Empire (1185–1393/96) during which its territory expanded on the Balkans but also its collapse and occupation by the Ottomans at the end of the 14th century. As one of the reviewers points out, literary activity was vibrant and continued some decades after the collapse of the Empire. Many structural innovations in the language can be traced back to that time. (iv) *Modern Bulgarian*, in Scatton's (1993) view from the 15th century until 1878. This covers the time of the Ottoman domination (1394–1878).

It should be noted that many of the innovations that occurred during the Middle and Early Modern Bulgarian periods are not systematically reflected in written records. As Scatton (1993: 188) states, there are a number of reasons for this, one of the most important ones being conservative scribal attitude which prevented vernacular features from entering the written language. A prescriptive attitude dominated Bulgarian grammar writing well into the 20th century. Consequently, the formal and written varieties have been the focus of many descriptions where examples are commonly taken from literary works. In contrast, the **Bulgarian National Corpus** (BulNC 2023), developed since the late 1990's, includes a rich variety of samples from both written and spoken registers.

Bulgarian dialects are traditionally divided into Western and Eastern, based on the realization of Proto-Slavonic *ě /jat/. Thus in Western dialects *ě becomes /e/ as in *млеко/mleko* 'milk', *нема/nema* 'not.have, not.exist' etc. while in Eastern dialects *e is typically, though not always, realized as /ja/ as in *мляко/ml-jako* 'milk', *няма/njama* 'not.have, not.exist'. In addition to this feature, there are also several other phonological and grammatical characteristics that support the Eastern-Western divide, see (Scatton 1993: 244–245) for a concise outline. The Eastern dialects, specifically those from Veliko Tŕnovo, the capital of Medieval Bulgaria and one of the main centers of the national renaissance, were the basis for the written as well as the formal and prestigious language for a long time. Once Sofia, which lies in the Western part of the country, became capital in 1878, some western features penetrated formal registers and the literary language. A detailed overview of Bulgarian dialects is considered outside the scope of this article; for a comprehensive analysis and data, see Stoykov & Mladenov (1993), Antonova-Vasileva et al. (2016b).

Modern Bulgarian has 6 vowels and 22 consonant phonemes.¹ The language

¹The number of consonant morphemes is reported here following Maddieson (2013). For authors

has free stress, rich inflectional and derivational morphology, relatively well defined morpho-syntactic categories of open classes such as nouns, verbs, adjectives and adverbs. The most neutral word order is SVO. Bulgarian has a number of features which set it apart from other Slavonic languages. The most important ones include the loss of the case system, the development of a definite article suffixed to the noun and the loss of the infinitive form. On the other hand, Bulgarian has retained and further complicated the Proto-Slavic tense-aspect system. As a result, currently the verb system covers a complex interplay of tense-aspect categories expressed mostly by prefixes on the verb stem but sometimes also by suffixes and infixes. As a consequence of the long contact with Turkish, Bulgarian has evidential as a grammatical category, which encodes the source of information, witnessed or inferred, or reported speech.

The language has been in intensive contact with other languages throughout its history. It is obviously part of the Balkan Sprachbund and shares a number of features with its neighbors. Some of them were already mentioned above: a vowel system consisting of six cardinal vowels, the development of a suffixed definite article and the loss of infinitives. Other features typically associated with the Balkan Sprachbund and observed in Bulgarian as well include the development of a periphrastic future formed by a particle from the verb ‘want’, cf. (3a) in §2.1; distinctions between accomplishments and ongoing activities in the verb system; the use of one and the same construction to indicate subordination and subjunctive functions. A variant of this construction is also used for the encoding of specific subdomains of negation such as negation of predications set in the future as well as several variants of the prohibitive (see §2.1 as well as §2.2.1). Borrowing of lexicon has been extensive throughout the history of Bulgarian. Greek borrowings date from the time of Old Bulgarian. They became especially frequent during the Ottoman rule. Borrowings from Turkish are numerous during the time of the Ottoman domination. As noted by Scatton (1993: 240) a major change that occurred after 1878, the end of the Ottoman domination, included the replacement of Turkish loan words with Bulgarian neologisms or borrowings from Russian and other European languages such as Latin, Italian, French and German. In the 20th century and to this day, we observe a constant influx of English loans.

Most of the data in this article have been produced by the author who is a native speaker of the language. The BulNC (2023) has been amply consulted as well together with reference sources such as grammars, dictionaries and earlier analyses of negation in Bulgarian.

who consider palatalization to be a distinctive feature in the language and thereby the number of consonant morphemes becomes 35, cf. Scatton (1993: 191)

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard Negation

Simple declarative sentences with an overt lexical verb as a predicate are negated by a pre-verbal particle *ne* when the verb is in present or in past tense, cf examples (1) and (2) below.

(1) Negation in predications with present time reference

a. Стефан тича.

Stefan tič-a.

Stefan runs.IPFV-3SG.PRS

‘Stefan runs.’ (constructed example)

b. Стефан не тича.

Stefan ne tič-a.

Stefan NEG run.IPFV-3SG.PRS

‘Stefan does not run.’ (constructed example)

(2) Negation in predications with past time reference

a. Стефан тичаше.

Stefan tič-aše.

Stefan run.IPFV-3SG.IMPF

‘Stefan was running.’ (constructed example)

b. Стефан не тичаше.

Stefan ne tič-aše.

Stefan NEG run.IPFV-3SG.IMPF

‘Stefan was not running.’ (constructed example)

In very broad lines, we can describe negation in predications with non-future time reference as symmetric, following [Miestamo \(2005\)](#). However, it has to be said that the preference for aspect in affirmative versus negative predications is yet to be studied. For instance, the verbs in examples (1b) and (2b) above are imperfective. Setting them in perfective aspect would be grammatical but it is my impression that imperfective is generally preferred in negated predications. However, more research is necessary to fully test this statement. The preference for aspect will become even more important in the discussion on negation in non-declaratives, in §2.2.

The future tense is formed by a particle *šte* and an inflected form of the lexical verb, cf. (3a). The construction can be traced back to the Old Church Slavonic

construction which involved the verb *xotěti* ‘want’ plus the infinitive of a lexical verb. It was one among several alternative ways to indicate futurity, cf. *Duridanov* (1991: 418), *Slavova* (2017: 288–296). Verbal predications in the future tense are negated by a complex compound predicate that includes the negative existential *njama* together with the lexical verb introduced by the conjunction *da*, see example in (3b) and §4.6.5 for a discussion on diachrony.

(3) Negation in predications with future time reference

- a. Стефан ще тича.
 Stefan šte tiča.
 Stefan FUT run.IPFV.3SG.PRS
 ‘Stefan will run.’ (constructed example)
- b. Стефан няма да тича.
 Stefan njama da tič-a.
 Stefan NEGEX SUB run.IPFV-1SG.PRS
 ‘Stefan will not run.’ (constructed example)

It should be noted that compound complex predicates that include an auxiliary and a lexical verb preceded by *da* are seemingly identical to complex clauses that consist of a main clause and a subordinate one. However, a complex clause may have different subjects as in (4). In a complex compound predicate only a single subject is possible.

- (4) Искам да дойдат тук.
 Iskam da dojdāt tuk.
 want.1SG.PRS SUB come.3PL.PRS
 ‘I want them to come here’ (constructed example)

Following *Miestamo*’s (2005) typology, we can say that in Bulgarian negation in predications with future time reference shows constructional asymmetry and can be in the type (A/Fin). Affirmative and negative verbal clauses with future time reference differ in terms of constructional complexity of the predicate: affirmatives are encoded by a simple predicate and negative by a complex one.

To conclude, SN in Bulgarian can be described as symmetric for verbs marked present or past, and asymmetric with regard to construction for predications where the verb is in the future tense. The symmetric construction falls in line with well known cross-linguistic tendencies to encode verbal negation by a particle that precedes the verb (cf. *Dahl* 1979, 2010, *Dryer* 2013a,b). The asymmetric construction can be said to abide by general cross-linguistic tendencies as

well since the negative auxiliary precedes the lexical verb which expresses to be negated.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

2.2.1 Negative commands

Negative commands can be formed in several ways: (i) By adding the particle *ne* to a positive imperative as in (5b), and (ii) By a compound complex predicate which includes an auxiliary and a lexical verb or a proposition to be negated introduced by the conjunction *da..* In fact, this construction is exactly the same as the one used to negate verbal clauses in the future. There are several different verbs/specific verb forms that can be used as prohibitive auxiliaries: *nedej* ‘do not/don’t’, *nemoj* ‘not.be.able.to.2SG.IMP’, *njama* ‘negative existential’ and also *stiga* ‘enough’, see (5c), (5d), (5e) for some illustrations. This prohibitive formed by a complex predicate is hereafter referred to as the *complex predicate prohibitive*; whenever a specific sub-construction is discussed it is referred by citing the verb in the matrix clause, for instance the *nedej*-prohibitive. Discussion on the diachronic origins of the verbs used in the matrix clause is offered in §4.6.5.

(5) Imperative vs. prohibitives

a. Тичай!

Tič-aj!

run.IPFV-2SG.IMP

‘Run!’ (constructed example)

b. Не тичай

Ne tič-aj!

NEG run.IPFV-2SG.IMP

‘Do not run!’ (constructed example)

c. Недей да тичаш!

Nedej da tič-aš!

do_not.2SG.IMP SUB run.IPFV-2SG.PRS

‘Do not run!’ (constructed example)

d. Няма да тичаш с празни ръце.

Njama da tič-aš s prazni rətse

NEGEX SUB run.IPFV-2SG.PRS with empty.PL hand.PL

‘Don’t run with empty hands’ (literal translation ‘You won’t run with empty hands.’) (Bulgarian National Corpus)

е. Стига си тичал!

Stiga si tič-al

enough be.2SG.PRS run.IPFV-PST.PTCP.M.SG

‘Stop running/enough running/do not run!’ (constructed example).

Counts in the Bulgarian National Corpus indicate that the regularly negated imperative as in (5b), is definitely more frequent than the *complex predicate prohibitives* shown in (5c, 5d, 5e). However, the existing variation in the encoding of the prohibitive should still be noted.

A comment on the form *Cmuza/Stiga* shown in (5e) is in order. In Bulgarian dictionaries, see Popov et al. (1994: 925–926), the form *stiga* is classified as a particle used in prohibitive commands. However, unlike other admonitive particles such as *haide* ‘come on’ and *neka* ‘let’s’, that have no obvious relation to any lexical items,² the form *stiga* clearly comes from the verb *stigam* ‘arrive, reach, be enough’, see also van der Auwera (2006: 11) citing Greenberg (1996: 166). It is a polysemous word with a number of functions. With some of them, such as being a prohibitive auxiliary or part of a complex subjunction *cmuza da/stiga da* ‘as long as, if’, *stiga* can be described as a word with more general grammatical functions. However, it is also used as a motion verb meaning ‘arrive, reach’, both literally and metaphorically. Thus it clearly belongs to lexicon as well. Morphologically, *stiga* is the third person singular present form of *stigam*. However, this description is relevant only when it is used with its lexical senses; when used with its grammatical functions, it is best described as an invariant form. For this reason, it is probably justified to classify it as a particle when used as a grammatical item. However, seeing as it is clearly still used as with a referential sense as well, its classification becomes a complex task. See further discussion and data on this issue in §4.6.5.

The WALS classification (van der Auwera et al. 2013) of the Bulgarian prohibitive takes into account only the *nedej*-prohibitive; thus Bulgarian is classified in the type *Special imperative + special negative* which is cross-linguistically the most frequent type. In an updated classification Bulgarian should be also classified in the type *Normal imperative + normal negative*, as in (5a–5b) which comes third in cross-linguistic frequency among the four possible types of the prohibitive. Generally, it is safe to say that Bulgarian follows well-established cross-linguistic tendencies for the formation of its prohibitive.

The following can be said as regards aspect in prohibitives. Scatton (1980: 46) notes that negative imperative is not formed from perfective stems. This statement is probably best illustrated by one of the most common commands ‘Come!’

²The word *hajde* is a borrowing from Turkish.

cf. (6a) which is a suppletive perfective form and one of the most frequently used direct commands. It cannot be negated but the corresponding suppletive imperfective has to be used in the prohibitive, cf. (6c). Scatton (1980: 46) also notes that “positive imperatives from perfective stems are stylistically unmarked; positive imperatives from imperfectives carry a sense of urgency”, see (6b).

- (6) a. Ела!
Ela!
come.PFV.2SG.IMP
‘Come!’ (constructed example)
- b. Идвай!
Id-v-aj!
come-IPFV-2SG.IMP
‘Come!’ [with an implication of ‘Come right now/immediately!’]
(constructed example)
- c. Не идвай!
Ne id-v-aj!
NEG come-IPFV-2SG.IMP
‘Don’t come!’ (constructed example)

An example of a regular verb such as *сядам/sjadam* ‘sit’ is shown in (7). The perfective form, cited in (7a), is a neutral invitation to sit. The imperfective form in (7b) is more marked. It may indicate irritation or urgency. Only the imperfective form can be negated, see (7c); the use of the negator with the perfective *sedni* in (7d) is ungrammatical. Following Miestamo (2005), this should be classified as a paradigmatic asymmetry.

- (7) a. Седни!
Sed-n-i!
sit-PFV-2SG.IMP
‘Sit (down)!’ (constructed example)
- b. Сядай!
Sjad-aj!
sit.IPFV-2SG.IMP
‘Sit (down) (now)!’ (constructed example)
- c. Не сядай!
Ne sjad-aj!
NEG sit.IPFV-2SG.IMP
‘Don’t sit!’ (constructed example)

d. * Не седни

Ne sed-n-i

NEG sit-PFV-2SG.IMP

Intended reading: ‘Don’t sit!’ (constructed example)

It appears that it is much more common to use the imperfective aspect in the prohibitives and generally under negation. However, as already mentioned in §2.1, the preference for specific aspect categories under negation has to be subject to a more focused study.³

There is variation of the *complex predicate prohibitive* see Map 145 in Antonova-Vasileva et al. 2016a.⁴ The observed variation is along several parameters: (i) the choice of the prohibitive auxiliary, (ii) the form of the negated lexical verb, and (iii) the presence or absence of the subordinating particle *da*. These parameters are discussed below.

As already stated, the auxiliary in the *complex predicate prohibitive* can be *nedej* ‘don’t do’, *nemoj* ‘not.be.able.to.2SG.IMP’, *njama* ‘not.have’, *stiga* ‘enough’. The forms *nedej* and *nemoj* are restricted to the negative domain without any positive counterparts, see §4.6.5 for further discussion of their origins as well as for reasoning on the grammaticalization of *stiga* as a prohibitive auxiliary.

The form of the negated/prohibited lexical verb can be: (i) modern citation form or a short/truncated infinitive as in (8a); (ii) regular imperative, as in (8b); (iii) an older infinitive as in (8c); or (iv) an active past participle as in (8d).

The forms identified in the Bulgarian Dialect Atlas, Map 145 (Antonova-Vasileva et al. 2016a) are shown in (8) below. The punctuation in the examples follows the punctuation in the source.

(8) a. Недей/Немой плака.

³If it is indeed valid that imperfective aspect is the preferred one under negation, then we could say that Bulgarian falls in line with Schmid’s (1980) suggestion that such a preference is cross-linguistically common. Unlike Schmid (1980), who does not rely on a stratified sample, Miestamo & van der Auwera (2011) use data from a balanced sample with world coverage. These authors argue that the available cross-linguistic data do not provide any support for a clear preference of either perfective or imperfective aspect under negation. As one of the reviewers points out, while both standard and non-standard Bulgarian seem to conform to generalization that imperfective is preferred under negation, data from a closely related language, Serbian, has constructions similar to (8c) where a perfective verb is used e.g. *Nemoj da se naljutiš* ‘Don’t be cross’.

⁴The following disclaimer is offered as suggested by one of the reviewers: The value of the Bulgarian Dialect Atlas is in that it displays the entire Eastern South Slavic dialectal continuum. Note, however, that many of the speakers outside the Bulgarian state borders do not consider themselves Bulgarian speakers

- Nedej/Nemoj plaka.
do.not.2SG.IMP cry.IPFV.SHORT.INFINITIVE
'Do not cry.' (Central Eastern dialects, red-pink area on Map 145)
- b. Недей/Немой плачи.
Nedej/nemoj plači.
do.not.2SG.IMP cry.IPFV.IMP
'Do not cry.' (Several disparate areas, yellow areas on Map 145)
- c. Немой плакати.
Nemoj plaka-ti.
do.not.2SG.IMP cry.IPFV-INF
'Do not cry!' (Southern, red area on Map 145)
- d. Стига плакал.
Stiga plakal.
enough cry.IPFV.ACTIVE.PTCP
'Do not cry.'⁵ (Western areas, green areas on Map 145)
- e. Недей/Немой плачеш.
Nedej/nemoj plač-eš.
do.not.2SG.IMP cry.IPFV-2SG.PRS
'Do not cry.' (Western dialects, light blue areas on Map 145)

As indicated on Map 145 in Antonova-Vasileva et al. (2016b), the use of a specific auxiliary does not seem to be geographically conditioned, except for the *Stiga*-construction which appears especially common in some non-standard variants west of Sofia. On the other hand, the use of a specific form of the lexical verb does show a geographically conditioned distribution. Specifically, Eastern dialects opt for some form of the infinitive while in the west a finite form of the lexical verb is clearly preferred. The use of a regular imperative in the complex clause prohibitive construction is observed in delimited areas all over the Bulgarian speaking territory. It should be noted that the *njama*-constructions (the negated declarative future) which can be used as a prohibitive is not observed in this function in non-standard variants of Bulgarian as cited by Antonova-Vasileva et al. (2016b).

⁵The glossing in the source is *minalo svършено dejatelno pričastie* which should have resulted in a gloss such as PFV.ACTIVE.PTCP. However, as one of the reviewers rightfully points out that the verb is imperfective, hence the change of gloss. It should be noted that it is formed on the aorist stem, which for this particular group of verbs ends in /k/. The imperfective stem ends in /č/ so the imperfective past participle is *плачел/plačel*. As far as I can tell, the latter form is used mostly in evidential constructions.

Hortatives are formed periphrastically by the particles *hajde* or *neka* followed by a subordinated clause as in (9a) or by a subordinate clause structure only as in (9b) where these particles are omitted.

- (9) a. Хайде/Нека да тичаме!
 Hajde/Neka da tič-ame!
 Let's/Let's SUB run.IPFV-1PL.PRS
 'Let's run!' (constructed example)
- b. Да тичаме!
 Da tič-ame!
 SUB run.IPFV-1PL.PRS
 'Let's run!' (constructed example)

Both hortative constructions in (9) can be negated by the particle *ne* as shown in (10).

- (10) a. Хайде/Нека да не тичаме!
 Hajde/Neka da ne tič-ame!
 Let's/Let's SUB NEG run.IPFV-1PL.PRS
 'Let's not run!' (constructed example)
- b. Да не тичаме!
 Da ne tič-ame!
 SUB NEG run.IPFV-1PL.PRS
 'Let's not run!' (constructed example)

Based on the data in (9) and (10) negation in hortatives can be classified as symmetric. It should be noted, however, that usage based data, obtained from searches in the Bulgarian National Corpus and on social media highlight the fact that the particles *neka* and *hajde* differ with regard to their uses under negation and that affirmative and negated hortatives have very different discourse functions. These generalizations are further substantiated below.

First, the particles *neka* and *hajde* are not equal with regard to their uses with negation. In the Bulgarian National Corpus, *neka* shows 2271 hits in contexts of negation while *hajde* occurs with negation about five times less frequently, in 522 contexts.⁶

⁶Searches in social media yield even more striking proportions, specifically 20 600 000 for *neka* with negation and 3 900 000 hits for *hajde*. However, since the data on social media are not as controlled as the data in the Bulgarian National Corpus, it is probably safer to rely on the frequencies obtained from the latter

Second, completely different verbs are used in positive versus negated hortatives. Specifically, positive hortative typically encode expressions of well wishes and good will as illustrated in (11a) and (11b). It should be noted that the constructions in (11a) and (11b), which are fairly common hortatives, are rarely, if ever, negated. Negated hortatives, on the other hand, are often admonitions and mitigated commands, which include verbs such ‘forget’, ‘limit’, ‘hurry’ as in (11c) and (11d). Thus the functions of the positive and the negated hortative are completely different even if their encoding appears symmetric.

(11) Frequently occurring hortatives

- a. Нека да е лято!
Neka da e ljato!
let SUB is summer
‘Let it be summer!’ (popular song by the Tonika Family, a music group)
- b. Хайде да поговорим.
Hajde da po-govor-im.
let’s SUB IPFV-talk.IPFV-1PL.PRS
‘Let us talk.’ (social media)
- c. Хайде да не бързаме.
Hajde da ne bərz-ame.
let’s SUB NEG hurry.IPFV-1PL.PRS
‘Let’s not hurry.’ (social media)
- d. Нека (да) не забравяме...
Neka (da) ne zabrav-jame...
let’s (SUB) NEG forget-1PL.PRS
‘Let’s not forget...’ (social media)

A comment on the use of the use of the subordinator *da* together with *neka* is in order. The examples in (11a) and in (11d) may give the impression that the subordinator is obligatory in the affirmative and optional with negation. This is not the case: the subordinator *da* is optional in both contexts but it would be odd to leave it out in (11a) which is a lyric from a song, highly entrenched for the generation who know the group.

2.2.2 Negative questions

Polar questions are formed by the question particle *li* which follows the main verb in the clause and is typically clause final. Negative polar questions can be

formed by either the standard negator *ne* or by the negative existential *njama*; their use follows the restriction to non-future vs. future tense as described in §2.1. The negators *ne* and *njama* can be used as short negative answers as well, see examples (12), (13), (14). The repetition of the full verb sentence in all answers is optional and a matter of politeness: the more complete the answer, the higher the degree of politeness.

- (12) A: Пишеш ли?
 Piš-eš li?
 write.IPFV-2SG.PRS Q
 ‘Are you writing?’
 B: Не, не пиша.
 Ne, ne piš-a.
 No, NEG write.IPFV-1SG.PRS
 ‘No, I am not writing.’ (constructed example)
- (13) A: Не пишеш ли?
 Ne piš-eš li?
 NEG write.IPFV-2SG.PRS Q
 ‘Are you not writing?’
 B: Не, (не пиша).
 Ne, (ne piš-a).
 No, (NEG write.IPFV-1SG.PRS)
 ‘No, I am not (writing).’ (constructed example)
- (14) A: Няма ли да дойдеш?
 Njama li da dojd-eš?
 NEGEX Q SUB come.PFV-2SG.PRS
 ‘Aren’t you going to come?’
 B1 Не, няма (да дойд-а).
 Ne, njama (da dojda).
 No, NEGEX (SUB come.PFV-1SG.PRS)
 ‘No, I won’t /No, I am not going to come.’ (constructed example)
 B2 Няма.
 Njama.
 NEGEX
 ‘No, I won’t.’ (constructed example)

Negative polar questions can also be formed by using the particle *nima* as in (15). Such questions express either surprise, (15a), or are rhetorical in nature, cf. (15b). They belong to formal registers or high literary style as for instance, poetry.⁷

- (15) a. Нима не ги беше видял никой?
 Nima ne gi beše vid-jal nikoj?
 NEG.Q NEG 3PL.OBJ be.3SG.IMPF see.PFV-PTCP.PST.M.SG nobody
 ‘Didn’t anyone see them?’ (Popov et al. 1983: 46)
- b. Нима така поета люби?
 Nima taka poet-a ljub-i?
 NEG.Q so poet.M.SG-DEF.M.SG love-3SG.PRS
 ‘A poet does not love this way.’ (lit. ‘Doesn’t the poet love this way?’⁸)
 (Popov et al. 1983: 46)

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Predications of identity, class membership and property assignment are negated by the standard negator *ne*. Even though negation in these predications is structurally identical to negation in verbal predications, it is functionally different in that it is mostly used for contrastive purposes cf. (16b), see also Mettouchi (2006) for the contrastive uses of negation in ascriptive predications. Constrative negation is further discussed in §4.1 and §4.6.2.

- (16) a. Стефан ми е брат.
 Stefan mi e brat.
 Stefan 1SG.DAT/POSS is brother
 ‘Stefan is my brother’ (lit. Stefan is a brother to me.) (constructed example)
- b. Стефан не ми е брат, ами братовчед.
 Stefan ne mi e brat, ami bratovčed.
 Stefan NEG 1SG.DAT/POSS is brother, but cousin
 ‘Stefan is not my brother, he is my cousin’ (lit. Stefan is not a brother to me, but a cousin.) (constructed example)

⁷The example in (15b) is from a famous Bulgarian poet, Pencho Slaveykov, who was active at the turn of the 19th and beginning of the 20th century. He remains a significant, debated and controversial figure in Bulgarian literature. The line cited by Popov et al. (1983) is from the poem *Izgorata na Šemzedin Hafisa* / ‘The love of Šemzedin Hafisa’.

⁸A generic use of the definite article is a characteristic feature of several Balkan languages.

- c. Стефан е висок.
 Stefan e visok.
 Stefan is tall.M.SG
 ‘Stefan is tall.’ (constructed example)
- d. Стефан не е висок.
 Stefan ne e visok.
 Stefan NEG is tall.M.SG
 ‘Stefan is not tall.’ (constructed example)

Locative predications can be negated either by the particle *ne* or by the negative existential *njama* as shown in (17).

- (17) a. Тодор (си) е в къщи.
 Todor (si) e v kăšti.
 Todor (REFL) is in at.home
 ‘Todor is at home.’ (constructed example)
- b. Тодор не (си) е в къщи, (а на кино)
 Todor ne (si) e v kăšti (a na kino).
 Todor NEG (REFL) is in at.home (but at cinema)
 ‘Todor is not at home (but at the movies).’ (constructed example)
- c. Тодор го няма в къщи.
 Todor go njama v kăšti.
 Todor 3SG.OBJ NEGEX in at.home
 ‘Todor is not at home.’ (constructed example)

Some noteworthy facts about negation of locative predications are as follows: (i) The reflexive marker in (17a) and (17b) is optional which is why it is within brackets; its addition makes the sentence more informal. (ii) Negation by the SN marker *ne* can be used with contrastive focus as indicated in (17b). When the negative existential *njama* is used, there is no such possibility. The information that Todor is at some place other than home has to be supplied in a new clause. This falls in line with a general cross-linguistic tendency for negative existentials to be mutually exclusive with focus (cf. Veselinova 2013b). (iii) When the negative existential *njama* is used for the negation of locative predications, the subject has to be marked with an object clitic as shown in (17c). If the locative adverbial *v kăšti* is omitted, the sentence would still be grammatical. However, depending on the situation, the utterance may mean either that Todor is absent from a specific location, which can be deduced from context, or that Todor is dead.

Predications of existence and possession are negated by the negative existential *njama* which replaces pertinent forms of the habeo verb *ima* ‘have’.

- (18) a. Има питомни лъвове.
Ima pitomn-i ləv-ove.
have.3SG.PRS tame-PL lion-PL
‘There are tame lions.’ / ‘Tame lions exist’ (constructed example)
- b. Няма питомни лъвове.
Njama pitomn-i ləv-ove.
NEGEX.3SG.PRS tame-PL lion-PL
‘There are no tame lions.’ / ‘Tame lions do not exist’ (constructed example)
- c. (Ние) имаме кола.
(Nie) ima-me kola.
(1PL) have-1PL.PRS car.F.SG
‘We have a car.’ (constructed example)
- d. (Ние) нямаме кола.
(Nie) njama-me kola.
(1PL) not.have-1PL.PRS car.F.SG
‘We don’t have a car.’ (constructed example)

As indicated by the data (18a) and (18b), the existential predicate, either affirmative or negative is clause initial, which is a marked position for a predicate in Bulgarian. Furthermore, it has defective morphology in that it appears in a frozen third person singular form; it does not inflect for number but does inflect for tense. Conversely, when used in possessive predications as in (18c) and (18d), both the affirmative *ima* and the negative *njama* occur in clause-medial position and agree with their syntactic subjects. It is easy to see that the negative existential *njama* is a univerbation between the negator *ne* and the verb *ima*. However, as discussed in §4.6.5, *njama* is a single meaningful unit; it is not justified to postulate two morphemes in it.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Negation in non-main clauses is encoded in the same way as negation in main clauses, by *ne* and *njama* as shown in (19).

- (19) Стефан каза че няма да кара защото не е спал.

Stefan kaza će njama da kara zaštoto ne e
 Stefan said that NEGEX SUB drive.3SG.PRS because NEG be.3SG.PRS
 spal.
 sleep.M.SG.PST.PTCP
 ‘Stefan said he wouldn’t drive because he hadn’t slept’ (constructed
 example)

The closest equivalent to dependent non-finite clauses in Bulgarian are constructions which are headed by a form labeled *active adverbial participle*/Bulgarian *деепричастие*. It is formed from the present/imperfective stem of the verb and the suffix *-йку/-jki*. The final vowel of the stem can be either /a/ or /e/; its quality depends on the inflectional class of the verb, see *Pärvev (1983: 382)* and data in (20).

(20) Examples of active adverbial participles

каз-в-ам	kaz-v-am	‘say-IPFV-1SG.PRS’	казва-йки	kazva-jki	‘saying’
пея	peja	‘sing-IPFV.1SG.PRS’	пее-йки	pee-jki	‘singing’
вярв-ам	vjarv-am	‘believe-IPFV.1SG.PRS’	вярва-йки	vjarva-jki	‘believing’

This active adverbial participle is used to indicate action that is often simultaneous with the action indicated by the main verb; the clause headed by it is described as an adverbial constituent (cf. *Popov et al. 1983: 238–239*). Dependent non-finite clauses are negated by the SN marker *ne* as shown in (21).

- (21) Не вярвайки на собствените си очи, аз се приближих до будката.
 Ne vjarv-ajki na sobstven-i-te si oči, az se
 NEG believe-ADV.PTCP PREP OWN-PL-DEF.PL REFL eyes, I REFL
 približ-ix do budka-ta.
 approach.PFV-PST PREP kiosk-DEF.F
 ‘Not believing my own eyes, I approached to the kiosk.’ (Bulgarian
 National Corpus)

It has to be said that non-finite clauses headed by a gerund-like form are negated very seldom. Out of the 205061 hits of such clauses in the Bulgarian National corpus, there are only 1279 where the active adverbial participle (деепричастие) is negated.⁹

⁹The seed for the corpus search uses the morphological tagging of the Bulgarian National Corpus. Thus I used a regular expressions including the tag for active adverbial participle, **pos=v ivf=z* to locate dependent clauses headed by it. That yields 205601 hits. To locate such clauses in the context of negation I used *‘не *pos=v ivf=z’*. This yields 1488 hits; however in 209, we do not observe negation of the active adverbial participle; rather the dependent clause occurs after a standalone negative answer or precedes a negated constituent such as a negated object or a place adverbial.

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Negative lexicalizations include negative existential *njama* and the special prohibitive forms *nedej* and *nemoj*, cf. §2.2 as well as §2.3 for examples. In addition, there is a special form *невем/nevem* ‘I don’t know’ observed in the non-standard dialect of Trojan (Balkan Mountain, Central Bulgaria), cf. Georgiev et al. (1971: v.4:585).

All of these lexicalizations fall in line with the cross-linguistic generalizations outlined for this phenomenon, cf. Veselinova (2013a). The origin of these lexicalizations is discussed in §4.6.5.

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Both the standard negator *ne* as well as the negative existential *njama* can be used as short negative replies. Examples (12–13) above show *ne* in this function while (22) illustrates the same for *njama*, see also discussion and data in 2.2.2.

- (22) A: Ще дойдеш ли?
Šte dojd-eš li?
FUT come.PFV-2SG.PRS Q
‘Are you going to come?’
B: Не/Няма!
Ne/Njama!
NEG/NEGEX
‘No!’ (constructed example)

To change the polarity of a negative question, as in (13), the adverb/sentence tag *naprotiv* ‘on the contrary’ must be used. The affirmative particle *da* ‘yes’ cannot be used in answers to negative polarity questions.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Negative indefinite pronouns are formed by prefixing the particle or prefix *ni* to content question words such as *koj* ‘who’, *kakvo* ‘what’, *kakav* ‘what.ADJ’, *kade* ‘where’, *кога/koga* ‘when’ etc. Some examples are shown in (23).

- (23) Negative indefinite pronouns
- | | |
|-----------------|-----------|
| никой/nikoj | ‘no one’ |
| никакъв/nikakǎv | ‘none’ |
| никъде/nikǎde | ‘nowhere’ |
| никога/nikoga | ‘never’ |

The forms listed in (23) inflect according to number and gender of their referent when applicable. In addition to these forms, there is also the negative quantifier *нищо/ništo* ‘nothing’ which is a lexicalized form resulting from the fusion of *ni* and *što* ‘what’. The form *što* is used as a question word in fixed phrases and non-standard variants of Bulgarian only; *kakvo* ‘what’ is the standard content question word.

Indefinite pronouns co-occur with predicate negation as demonstrated in (24). On this parameter Bulgarian follows a wide-spread cross-linguistic tendency (cf. Haspelmath 2013).

- (24) Никой никъде няма да ходи.
 Nikoj nikǎde njama da xodi.
 no.one no.where NEGEX SUB go.IPFV.3SG.PRS
 ‘No one will go anywhere.’ (constructed example)

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Case marking is not relevant for Bulgarian, therefore, only derivation is discussed in this section. Negative derivation is done by using the particle *ne* and by the preposition *bez* ‘without’. The particle *ne* is typically prefixed to a positive stem, see data in (25). The suffixes *-ив/iv* and *-ен/-en* are used for the derivation of adjectives regardless of polarity, that is they derive both affirmative and negative adjectives.

- (25) Negative derivations by using the particle *ne* (constructed examples)
- | | | |
|--------------|---------------|--------------------------------|
| щастие | šťastie | ‘happiness, bliss’ |
| нещастие | ne-šťastie | ‘misery, a stroke of bad luck’ |
| справедлив | spravedliv | ‘just’ |
| несправедлив | ne-spravedliv | ‘unjust, partial’ |
| доволен | dovolen | ‘content, happy, satisfied’ |
| недоволен | ne-dovolen | ‘unhappy, dissatisfied’ |

The derivational operation shown in (25) is very productive. As is common with derivation, there are also cases of mismatches. For instance, the derivation of *ne-štasten* ‘unhappy’ presents an example of a stem mismatch since it is derived from a stem different from the one used for its positive correspondent *šťastliv* ‘happy’. A semantic mismatch can be exemplified by the derivation of *neumoren* ‘energetic, somebody who never gets tired’ from *umoren* ‘tired’. The positive adjective refers to a resulting state, the derived negative adjective refers to a constant property of a person’s disposition; thus even if there is a seeming symmetry in form, the senses of the two lexemes do not form an opposition.

Privative or caritive marking is encoded by prepositional phrases where the preposition *bez* ‘without’ is used together with a nominal; the resulting prepositional phrase indicates the absence of that nominal. These prepositional phrases are further unverbated and used as bases for the derivation of adjectives with a similar meaning as shown in data in (26).

(26) Privative expressions with *bez*

- a. без дом → бездомен
bez dom → bez-dom-en
without home → without-home-ADJ
‘without (a) home’ → ‘homeless’ (Stojanov et al. 1983: 156)
- b. без смисъл → безсмислен
bez smisl → bez-smisl-en
without sense → without-sense-ADJ
‘without (a) sense’ → ‘senseless’ (following Stojanov et al. 1983: 156)
- c. без съвест → безсъвестен
bez səvest → bez-səvest-en
without conscience → without-conscience-ADJ
‘without (a) conscience/scruples’ → ‘unscrupulous’ (following Stojanov et al. 1983: 156)
- d. без утеха → безутешен
bez uteha → bez-uteš-en
without consolation → without-consolation-ADJ
‘without (a) consolation’ → ‘inconsolable’ (following Stojanov et al. 1983: 156)

The preposition *bez* ‘without’ can be also prefixed directly to some adjectives as shown in (27).

- (27) полезен¹⁰ → безполезен
 polezen → bez-polezen
 useful → without-useful
 ‘useful’ → ‘useless’ (constructed example)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

The scope of negative markers may differ. When used as SN, the particle *ne* typically scopes over the entire proposition as in (28). The same applies for the negative lexicalizations listed in §2.5.

- (28) Не знам какво да кажа.
 Ne znam kakvo da kaža.
 NEG know.1SG.PRS what SUB say.1SG.PRS
 ‘I do not know what to say.’ (constructed example)

The particle *ne* can be also used with a narrow scope, that is, as a constituent negator. For instance, in (29), it scopes only the adverbial phrase *na šega*, ‘as a joke’ rendering the sense ‘not as a joke’. Other negative particles with narrow scope include *ni* and *nito*, cf (37b) in §4.4 below.

- (29) Райко се уплаши не на шега и взе да се взира отново в шумата.
 Rajko se u-plaši ne na šega i vze da
 Rajko REFL PFV-be.scared.3SG.PST NEG on joke and take.PFV.3SG.PST SUB
 se vzira otnovo v šuma-ta.
 REFL stare.PFV.3SG.AOR again in forest.leaves.F.SG-DEF.SG.F
 ‘Rajko was scared, not as a joke, and started staring into the forest leaves again.’ *Stojanov et al. (1983: 492)*

In many cases of contrastive negation, the negated construction is emphasized by a special intonation as it would be in (30) when spoken. However, I cannot think of cases where the contrast is achieved by prosodic means only. *Lashkova (1980)* offers a detailed discussion on the use of negation and parsing of the predication.

¹⁰The adjective *polezen* ‘useful’ is a derivation from *polza* ‘use’ by adding an epenthetic vowel to the stem and the adjectivizer *-en*.

- (30) Казах ти да купиш пиле, не петел!
Kaza-x ti da kup-iš pile, ne petel!
say-AOR.1SG 2SG.DAT SUB buy-2SG chicken, NEG rooster!
'I told you to buy a chicken, not a rooster!' (constructed example)

4.2 Negative polarity

In the strict sense of a negative polarity item, that is, words which only occur with negation and other irrealis contexts, Bulgarian has only two, *gək* and *hič* 'none, not at all'.¹¹ In addition, there are two adverbs *izobšto/vəobšte* 'generally, at all, (ever)' that are used very frequently in irrealis contexts which is why it is fitting to mention them when negative polarity items are discussed.

The form *gək* occurs exclusively in negative contexts and typically together with the emphatic negators *nito* or *ni*.

- (31) Стефан не каза нито гък цяла вечер.
Stefan ne kaza nito gək tsjala večer.
Stefan NEG say.PFV.3SG.AOR NEG.EMPH *gək* entire evening
'Stefan did not say a single word the entire evening.' (constructed example)

In the Bulgarian Etymological Dictionary (Georgiev et al. 1971: v. 1: 300), *gək* is described as an onomatopoeic form. I am not aware of any referential meaning of this word. It occurs mostly with verbs of utterance such as *кажа/kaža* 'say' or the more archaic *пека/reka* 'say'. Occasionally, it is also observed with the verb of hearing *чувам/čuvam* 'hear' as shown in (32) where *gək* is used in a ban to utter any kind of sound/say anything.

- (32) Да не чувам нито гък!
Da ne ču-v-am nito gək!
SUB NEG hear-IPFV-1SG.PRS NEG.EMPH *gək*!
'May I not hear a single word/sound!' = 'Not a single sound!' (Bulgarian National Corpus)

The form *gək* is described in Bulgarian dictionaries as an interjection. It has to be said that it invariably occurs in an object position, so based on syntactic criteria, it can also be said to have nominal properties. This contrasts with the

¹¹I am very grateful the reviewer who brought up *hič*, which I had missed and likewise prompted me to examine the adverbs *izobšto/vəobšte*.

form *hič* ‘none, not at all’ which is always used in a modifying function and is thus classified as an adverb, see also Dictionary of the Bulgarian Language (Bulgarian Academy of Sciences 1993). It is a loan from Turkish. Some examples follow in (33).

- (33) a. Хич не ме интересува.
 hič ne me interesuva.
 not.at.all NEG 1SG.ACC interest.IPFV.3SG.PRS
 ‘[it/this] does not interest me at all.’ (Dictionary of the Bulgarian Language Bulgarian Academy of Sciences 1993)
- b. Хич не му мига окото.
 hič ne my miga oko-to.
 not.at.all NEG 3SG.DAT blink.3SG.PRS eye.N.SG-DEF.SG.N
 lit. ‘To him the eye never blinks.’ = ‘He never blinks an eye.’ = ‘He does not care.’ (Dictionary of the Bulgarian Language Bulgarian Academy of Sciences 1993)

The adverbs *izobšto/vəobšte* ‘generally, at all, entirely’ are very close in meaning, with *izobšto* showing a broader polysemy than *vəobšte*, see the entries for *izobšto* and *vəobšte* in the Dictionary of the Bulgarian Language online. Examples are shown in (34) and (35).

- (34) a. Двигателят изгасна и колата изобщо не даваше признаци за живот.
 Dvigatel-jat iz-gas-na i kola-ta
 enginesG.M-DEF.SG.M PFV-extinguish-PST and car.SG.F-DEF.SG.F
 izobšto ne dava-še priznatsi za život.
 not.at.all give.IPFV-IMPF sign-PL indication.PL for life.M.SG
 ‘The engine died and the car showed no signs of life at all.’ (Bulgarian National Corpus)
- b. Но хепатитът често протича изобщо без пожълтяване.
 No hepatit-ət često protiča izobšto bez
 But hepatitisM.SG-DEF.M.SG often occur.IPFV.PRS.3SG at.all without
 po-želt-javane.
 PFX-yellow-NMLZ
 ‘But hepatitis often occurs without yellowing at all.’ (Bulgarian National Corpus)
- (35) a. Въобще не се е постарал за това ние да вникнем в дилемата му...

Vəobšte ne se e postar-al za tova
at.all NEG REFL be.3SG.PRS make.an.effort-PST.PTCP.M.SG for this
nie da vnikn-em v dilema-ta
1PL SUB get.an.insight.PFV-1PL.PRS in dilemma.SG.F-DEF.SG.F
mu...
3SG.DAT/POSS

‘[Apparently] [he] made no effort for us to get an insight into his
dilemma...’ (Bulgarian National Corpus)

- b. Вьобщє селото изглежда като след война.
Vəobšte selo-to izgležda kato sled vojna.
at.all village.SG.N-DEF.SG.N look.like.IPFV.PRS.3SG like after war
‘Generally, the village looks like after a war.’ (Bulgarian National
Corpus)

As mentioned above, both *izobšto* and *vəobšte* are very frequently used in irre-
alis contexts. Analyses of their contextual preference based on random samples
of 200 sentence extracted from the Bulgarian National Corpus are presented in
Table 1.

Table 1: Contexts of use for *izobšto* and *vəobšte* in a random sample of
200 sentences

Context	<i>izobšto</i>	<i>vəobšte</i>
negative/irrealis	74,50%	67%
positive	25,50%	33%
	100%	100%

As indicated in Table 1, in one-fourth of its uses, *izobšto* appears in positive
contexts; this is valid for one-third of the uses *vəobšte*. Both adverbs show a clear
preference for negative/irrealis contexts but they are also used often enough in
the affirmative domain. This, in turn, precludes classifying them as full-fledged
negative polarity items. In contrast, *gək* and *hič* are entirely restricted to the
negative domain.

4.3 Marking of NPs under the scope of negation

Noun phrases under the scope of negation do not receive any special marking
as shown by the data in (36a) and (36b). The only exception is the subject of a

negated locative predication when the negative existential is used for its negation. In that case, the subject is marked by an object clitic, cf. example (17c) and pertinent discussion.

Full noun phrases in object position follow the predicate and the standard negator as shown in (36b). The following can be said about pronominal objects. In affirmative sentences, they occur between the overt subject and the predicate as in (36c). If the subject is dropped as in (36d), the object pronoun follows the verb. In negated sentences, pronominal objects are placed between the negator and the lexical verb as in (36e). There is dialectal variation on this parameter. Within the entire Southeastern Slavic continuum, the pronoun is placed before the entire predicate phrase as in (36f) mainly in Central-Western varieties with a single pocket to the East, see blue areas on Map 143 (Antonova-Vasileva et al. 2016b). It is noteworthy that the varieties where the pronominal object occurs between the negator and the predicate surround the varieties where it is placed before the negator.

- (36) a. *Аз чувам телефона.*
Az ču-v-am telefon-a.
 1SG hear-IPFV-1SG.PRS telefon-DEF.M.SG
 ‘I hear the phone.’ = ‘I am hearing the phone ring.’ (constructed example)
- b. *Не чувам телефона.*
Ne ču-v-am telefon-a.
 NEG hear-IPFV-1SG.PRS phone.M.SG-DEF.M.SG
 ‘I don’t hear the phone’ (constructed example)
- c. *Аз те чувам.*
Az te ču-v-am.
 1SG 2SG.OBJ hear-IPFV-1SG.PRS
 ‘I hear you.’ (constructed example)
- d. *Чувам те.*
ču-v-am te.
 hear-IPFV-.1SG.PRS 2SG.OBJ
 ‘I hear you.’ (constructed example)
- e. *Аз не те чувам.*
Az ne te ču-v-am.
 1SG NEG 2SG.OBJ hear-IPFV-1SG.PRS
 ‘I don’t hear you.’ (Central Eastern dialects within Bulgarian territory, red areas on the [Map 143](#) in [Antonova-Vasileva et al. 2016b](#))
- f. *Аз те не чувам.*
Az te ne ču-v-am.
 1SG 2SG.OBJ NEG hear-IPFV-1SG.PRS
 ‘I don’t hear you.’ (Western dialects within Bulgarian territory, blue areas on the [Map 143](#) in [Antonova-Vasileva et al. 2016b](#))

The data presented in [Antonova-Vasileva et al. \(2016b\)](#) include only sentences with overt subject. In standard Bulgarian, the only possibility is for the object pronoun to occur in between the negator and the predicate even when the subject is skipped, similarly to (36e).

4.4 Reinforcing negation

There are various ways to reinforce negation: by the special emphatic negative markers *ni* and *nito* as in (37), by topicalizing a negated object as shown in (37a),

by indefinite pronouns and negative concord as in (38), and by the use of a minimizer together with *nito* or *ni*, see (31) and (32) above and (39) below. The use of the adverb *hič* ‘not at all’ is another strategy to reinforce negation, see (33) in §4.2.

The special emphatic negative markers *ni* and *nito* are used together with the predicate negator as in (37). They are frequently used in coordinated constructions, cf §4.5. The negative structures they produce are, however, always emphatic.

- (37) a. Ни думица горката му невеста не смея да каже.
 Ni dum-itsa gorka-ta mu nevesta ne
 NEG.EMPH word-DIM.F poor.F.SG-DEF.F.SG 3SG.M.DAT bride NEG
 смея да каже.
 dare.PFV.3SG.AOR SUB say.IPFV.3SG.AOR
 ‘Not a single little word did his poor bride dare say.’ (Stojanov et al. 1983: 492)
- b. Не чакай нито минута!
 Ne čak-aj nito minuta!
 NEG wait-IMP.2SG NEG.EMPH minute
 ‘Do not wait a single minute!’ (constructed example)
- (38) a. Никой нищо не знае.
 Nikoj ništo ne znae.
 nobody nothing NEG know.3SG.PRS
 ‘No one knows anything/a single thing’ (constructed example)
- b. Нищо не чувам
 Ništo ne ču-v-am.
 nothing NEG hear-IPFV-1SG.PRS
 ‘I don’t hear no nothing.’ (constructed example)
- (39) Тя не хапва нито трошичка.
 Tja ne хар-v-a nito troš-ička.
 3SG.F NEG bite-IPFV-3SG.PRS NEG.EMPH crumb-DIM.F.SG
 ‘She does not eat anything.’
 lit. ‘She does not bite a single little crumb.’ (constructed example)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Bulgarian has a special construction for emphatic negative coordination. Following Salaberri (2022: 664, in passim), it can be classified as having an ENC construc-

tion encoded by the particles *nito...nito* or their shortened variant *ni...ni*. They can be the sole predicate negator as in (40a) or appear together with predicate negation as in (40b). In this respect, Bulgarian differs from a closely related language, Croatian (ISO: *hrv*, Glottocode: *croat1245*), where the longer and the shorter variants of the construction have different distributional properties. Specifically, in Croatian, the longer variant, *niti...niti* scopes over the entire predication while the shorter one, *ni...ni* is used for the negation of noun phrases only, see *Salaberri* (2022: 670) citing *van der Auwera & Krasnoukhova* (2020). In Bulgarian the shorter variant *ni...ni* can be also used for predicate negation, see (40c) below.¹²

- (40) a. Нито съм го чула, нито съм го видяла.
 Nito səm go ču-la, nito səm
 ENC be.1SG.PRS 3SG.OBJ hear.PFV-PST.PTCP.F.SG ENC be.1SG.PRS
 go vid-jala.
 3SG.OBJ see.PFV-PST.PTCP.F.SG
 ‘I have neither heard, nor seen him.’ (constructed example)
- b. Не искам нито едното, нито другото.
 Ne iska-m nito edno-to, nito drugo-to.
 NEG want-1SG.PRS ENC one.N.SG-DEF.N.SG ENC other.N.SG-DEF.N.SG
 ‘I don’t want either one or the other.’ (constructed example)
- c. Стъкленият блясък в очите на Гъси говореше, че ни приема, ни предава.
 Stəkl-en-ijat bljasək v oči-te na Gəsi
 glass-ADJ.M.SG-DEF.M.SG glint in eye.PL-DEF.PL PREP Gussie
 govore-še, če ni priem-a, ni predav-a
 speak-IMPF.3SG that ENC accept-PRS.3SG ENC send.out-PRS.3SG
 ‘The glassy look in Gussie’s eyes suggested he neither took in [anything], nor was he communicating.’ (lit. ‘The glassy glint in Gussie’s eyes spoke to [the fact] that he was neither accepting [anything], nor was he sending out [anything].’ (Bulgarian National Corpus)

In *Salaberri*’s (2022) classification, Bulgarian falls into the most populated $\alpha 1$ type since the ENC construction is expressed by correlative markers without the addition of any other element.

¹²The differences between Bulgarian and Croatian might be correlated with the fact that Croatian, unlike Bulgarian has a special negation strategy for identification and property predications which is also closely connected to special strategies for contrastive negation.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

In this section I discuss negative transport in §4.6.1, contrastive negation, §4.6.2 and metalinguistic negation, §4.6.3. Non-negative uses of negation markers are presented in §4.6.4. I also offer a brief discussion on the origin of some of the expressions of negation discussed in this article in §4.6.5.

4.6.1 Negative transport

The phenomenon of negative transport refers to the interpretation of negation in a complex clause structure. Specifically, the marking of negation in the higher/main clause is interpreted as negation scoping over the predicate of the subordinate clause. For instance, in English, when verbs such as *think*, *believe*, *expect* are negated as predicates in the main clause, the implication is that their complement clause is negated as in *I don't think they will come*=*I think they will not come*.

Negative transport does not occur in Bulgarian. In (41a) below the negator scopes over the act of thinking, not over the action described in the subordinate clause. To negate that action, the negator has to be placed in the subordinate clause as in (41b).

- (41) a. Не мисля че ще дойдат.
 Ne misl-ja če šte dojd-at.
 NEG think.IPFV-1SG.PRS that FUT come.PFV-3PL.PRS
 ‘I don’t think they will come.’ (constructed example)
- b. Мисля че няма да дойдат.
 Misl-ja če njama da dojd-at.
 think.IPFV-1SG.PRS that NEGEX SUB come.PFV-3PL.PRS
 ‘I think they will not come’ (constructed example)

4.6.2 Contrastive negation

As discussed in §4.1, several of the already mentioned expressions of negation, the SN marker *ne* as well as *nito/ni* can be used for the encoding of *contrastive negation*, that is, the opposition between a negated element and an alternative. This is shown in (42) where the SN marker *ne* is used as a constituent negator; see (40b) for an examples of *nito...nito* as both a constituent and a contrastive negator.

- (42) Следобед пия чай, не кафе.

Sledobed pi-ja čaj, ne kafe.
Afternoon drink.IPFV-1SG.PRS tea NEG coffee

‘In the afternoon, I drink tea, not coffee’ (constructed example)

As noted in §2.3, when the SN marker *ne* is used as an ascriptive negator, it is also typically marking contrastive negation as well, see (16b) as well as pertinent discussion in Mettouchi (2006), also Mettouchi (2021)¹³.

4.6.3 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation is shown in (43). By using negation the speaker objects to the choice of *časovnik* ‘clock’, a term for a broader category, and opts for the more specific term *budilnik* ‘alarm clock’ which is a subcategory of the broader one.

- (43) Не часовник, ами цял будилник ще ти намеря.

Ne časovnik, ami tjal budilnik šte ti namerja.
NEG clock, but whole alarm_clock FUT 2SG.OBL find.1SG.PRS

lit. ‘Not a clock, but I will find you a whole alarm clock’ =

‘Not [just] a clock, but I will find you an alarm clock’ (Bulgarian National Corpus)

4.6.4 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

Expletive negation refers to the use of a negative marker when no negative meaning is intended. Among the expressions of negation discussed in this article, only *ne* can be used as an expletive negator. This is typically triggered by the adverbial subjunction *dokato* ‘until’ as shown in (44).

- (44) Няма да тръгна докато не заспиш.

Njama da tragna dokato ne za-spi-š.
NEGEX SUB leave.PFV.1SG.PRS until NEG PFV-sleep-2SG.PRS

‘I won’t leave until you fall asleep’ (constructed example)

Negative polar questions shown in (45) and also (12–15) are also often interpreted as rhetorical questions; in these cases the negative markers used in them *ne* and *nima* can be said to have a non-negative function. Or we could say that the entire negative question is used to convey a non-negative meaning (Matti Miestamo, p.c.).

¹³ Mettouchi 2021 suggests the term *attributive-equative* for this kind of negator.

(45) Не улових ли те два пъти?

Ne u-lov-ix li te dva pət-i?

NEG PFV-catch-1SG.PST Q 2SG.OBJ two.M way.M-PL

‘I caught you twice.’ (lit. ‘Did I not catch you twice’) (Stojanov et al. 1983: 492)

4.6.5 Diachronic notes and observations

In this section I present diachronic information about some of the negation markers discussed in this chapter and also outline hypotheses about their development. I start with a discussion on the evolution of *Stiga* as a prohibitive auxiliary, proceed with the lexicalizations of negation and end with a discussion on the non-operation of the Negative Existential Cycle in Bulgarian although examining the modern data only would suggest otherwise.

The following can be said about the form *stiga*. Morphologically, it is the third person singular present of the verb *stigam* which is a polysemous verb. One of its senses is motion ‘reach, arrive’, another is ‘reach to X, be able to touch’. Yet another sense is ‘be enough, be satisfied’, for this sense the verb is used with a dative subject. The regular imperative *stigaj* occurs only with the sense of motion, e.g. reaching a specific place; it is form of very low frequency, with only 18 occurrences in the Bulgarian National Corpus.

The form *Stiga* is formally part of the paradigm of the verb *stigam* ‘1. reach, arrive; 2. be enough’. Yet, it is best described as a special form, split from this verb. In Bulgarian dictionaries it is described as a particle. It is used to indicate that the action performed by the listener should stop immediately, its literal meaning is ‘Enough!/End!’. It is the most frequent form of this verb. In the Bulgarian National Corpus a search for all forms of the verb *stigam* yields 46 904 hits. Among them, the form *stiga* alone occurs 32 999 times, so 70% of all occurrences of *stigam*. The uses of the form *stiga* are examined in greater detailed based on a random sample of 200 sentences extracted from all hits with the randomizing tool of SketchEngine. The analysis of the random sample allows for the postulation of four broad categories/groups. The first group covers examples where *stiga* is used as a prohibitive auxiliary as in (5e), see also (47). The second group includes examples where it is part of a complex conjunction *stiga da* ‘as long as, if’ shown in (46a). The third group covers examples where *stiga* is used as a verb of motion that includes the reaching of a goal ‘reach, arrive’, either literally or metaphorically, see (46b). The fourth group includes examples where *stiga* is used with the sense ‘enough’ in various constructions, one of which is shown in (46c).

- (46) a. Всяка криза предлага възможности, стига да ги изобретиш.
 Vsjak-a kriza preglaga vȃzmožnost-i, stiga da
 every-SG.F kriza.SG.F offer.IPFV.3SG.PRS opportunity-PL, enough SUB
 gi izobret-iš.
 3PL.OBJ invent.IPFV-2SG.PRS
 ‘Every crisis offers opportunities as long as you invent them.’
 (Bulgarian National Corpus)
- b. До плажната ивица се стига по черен път.
 Do plažna-ta ivitsa se stiga po čeren
 PREP beach.ADJ.SG.F-DEF.SG.F stripe.SG.F REFL reach PREP blackSG.M
 pət.
 road.SG.M
 ‘The beach is reached by a dirt road.’ (Bulgarian National Corpus)
- c. За тях най-важното е пенсията да им стига за хляб, кисело
 мляко, лекарства, [...].
 Za tjah naj-važno-to e
 for 3PL.OBJ most-important.3SG.N-DEF.3SG.N be.3SG.PRS
 pensija-ta da im stiga za hljab,
 pension.SG.F-DEF.SG.F SUB 3PL.DAT be.enough.3SG.PRS for bread,
 kiselo mljako, lekarstv-a [...]
 sour.SG.N milk.SG.N, medicine-PL
 ‘For them, the most important thing is that their pension is enough
 for bread, yogurt, medicine,[...]’ (Bulgarian National Corpus)

A summary of the frequency of occurrence of these groups in the random sample is presented in Table 2 below.

Table 2: Functions of the form *cmuza/stiga* in a random sample of 200 sentences

Function	Number of hits	Per cent
<i>cmuza /stiga</i> ‘stop, prohibitive auxiliary’	75	37.50%
<i>cmuza ce (do)/stiga se (do)</i> ‘arrive at, reach’	53	26.50%
<i>cmuza da/stiga da</i> ‘as long as, if’	48	24%
<i>cmuza /stiga</i> ‘be enough’ (various constructions)	24	12%
	200	100%

As is indicated in Table 2, the form *stiga* is used with both grammatical and lexical meanings. Its uses as a prohibitive auxiliary are the most interesting ones here given the topic of this article. *Stiga* is used with this function in close to 40% of the randomized sample. It is observed in several different constructions: in a complex verb construction as shown in (5e), with nominal constituents or in an elliptic sentence on its own as in (47b).

- (47) a. Стига хленчене!
 Stiga hlenč-ene!
 enough whine-NMLZ
 ‘Stop whining!’ (lit. ‘enough whining’) (Bulgarian National Corpus)
- b. Айде стига!
 Ajde stiga!
 c’mon enough
 ‘Come on, stop!’ (Bulgarian National Corpus)

Conceptually, we can suggest grammaticalization paths such as those outlined in (48) and (49).

- (48) reach, arrive > satisfaction/fullness > stop/end
 (49) reach, arrive > stop/end

The fact that the form *stiga* appears in elliptical sentences with the sense ‘enough/stop’ and also that imperative morphology is preserved for the motion sense suggest that the construal of stopping an action or banning it builds on the sense of reaching satisfaction or fullness rather than on directed motion alone. As pointed out by van der Auwera (2006), the semantic connection between the sense ‘enough’ and prohibition is easy to understand when we think of uses of expressions meaning ‘enough’ which in many languages also indicate that the action should stop. In other words, the synchronic data seem to give more support to (48). However, more research is necessary where historical data are analyzed as well. Besides, as one of the reviewers suggests, the grammaticalization of *stiga* as a prohibitive auxiliary has to be contrasted with the evolution of the complex subfunction *stiga da* ‘as long as, if’.

The lexicalizations of negation cited in §2.5 are all fairly transparent univerbations of the negative particle *ne* and a positive stem, see data in (50).

- (50) a. няма/нјама ‘not.have, not.exist’ < ne + Old Church Slavonic имѣти,
 имамъ, имаши/iměti, imamъ, imeši ‘have, hold’
 Georgiev et al. 1971: v.4:732, see also Old Church Slavonic Online 2020

- b. Недей/Nedej ‘do not’ < ne +Old Church Slavonic дѣнати, дѣѣж, дѣѣши/dějati, dějō, děješi ‘do, commit’
 Georgiev et al. 1971: v.4:597 see also [Old Church Slavonic Online 2020](#)
- c. Немой/Nemoj ‘do not’
 < ne +Old Church Slavonic мошти, мож, можеши/mošti, mogō, možeši ‘be able, can’
 Georgiev et al. 1971: v.4:610 see also [Old Church Slavonic Online 2020](#)
- d. Невем/Nevem ‘I don’t know’
 < ne + Old Church Slavonic вѣдѣти, вѣмъ, вѣси/věděti, věmъ, vēsi ‘see, know’
 Georgiev et al. 1971: v.4:585 see also [Old Church Slavonic Online 2020](#)

It should be noted that although the forms cited in (50) clearly originate from the fusion of two morphemes, synchronically they constitute single meaningful units. As demonstrated by the data in (50), the erstwhile morpheme boundaries have been blurred to various degrees. For instance, any further morphological analysis and morphemic segmentation would be misguided with *njama* ‘not.have, not.exist’. Morpheme boundaries are still discernible with the remaining lexicalizations. However, it has to be said that the stems following the prefixed *ne*, while still having an identifiable sense, are effectively restricted to the forms cited in (50b) through (50d).

Among the lexicalizations listed in (50) only *njama* has a positive counterpart *ima* ‘have.3SG.PRS, exist’. The Old Church Slavonic дѣнати, дѣѣж, дѣѣши *dějati, děja, dějaši* ‘do, commit’ is not used in the positive in Modern Bulgarian while мошти, мож, можеши/*mošti, mogō, možeši* ‘be able can’ survives as the modal verb *moga* ‘be able to, can’ but it does not have an imperative. As for вѣдѣти, вѣмъ, вѣси/*věděti, věmъ, vēsi* ‘see, know’ its stem appears only in compounds or derived forms. Some of them express knowledge/expertise of X as in (51a) and (51b) but many of them are negative derivations, which typically express negative content as in (51c) and (51d).

- (51) a. литератур-о-вед
 literatur-o-ved
 literature-LINK-expert/one.who.knows
 ‘Literature expert, literature /scholar’ (constructed example)
- b. език-о-вед
 ezik-o-ved
 language-LINK-expert/one.who.knows
 ‘Language expert, language scholar’ / ‘linguist’ (constructed example)

- c. не-вед/не-веж
ne-ved/ne-vež
NEG-expert/one.who.knows
‘not-knowing, one who does not know, clueless, illiterate’
- d. не-веде-ние
ne-vede-nie
NEG-know-NMLZ
‘(state of) lack of knowledge, lack of information’

Another issue relevant for the diachrony of negation in Bulgarian is the operation of the Negative Existential Cycle. This diachronic model was first formulated by Croft (1991) to model the evolution of standard negation markers from negative existentials. The synchronic data may suggest that in Bulgarian we observe a partial operation of the cycle because of use of the negative existential *njama* for the negation of verbal predications marked for future tense cf. (3b) above repeated as (55) below for convenience. However, the diachronic data do not support this hypothesis.

As indicated in (52), in Old Church Slavonic there were several ways to encode future tense. One of the affirmative future constructions resulted from the grammaticalization of the verb хотѣти/*hotěti* ‘want’, shown in (52b), into the current particle *ще/šte*, shown in (54). Another Old Church Slavonic future construction involved имѣти ‘have’ + infinitive of the lexical verb, cf. (52a). This construction, shown in (53), was frequently used with negation, cf. Đorđić (1975: 201). Consequently, the construction we see in Modern Bulgarian in (55) does not result from an expansion of the uses of the negative existential but represents an inherited, modernized version of the Old Church Slavonic construction, cf. Veselinova (2010, 2014, 2016) for detailed discussions.

- (52) Different ways to encode future tense periphrastically in Old Church Slavonic
 - a. имѣти/*iměti* ‘have’ + infinitive
 - b. хотѣти/*hotěti* ‘want’ + infinitive
 - c. начати/*načati* ‘begin’ + infinitive
 - d. бѣдѣти/*bědęti* ‘be.FUT, become’ + infinitive
Duridanov 1991: 418, see also Slavova (2017: 288-294)
- (53) Не иматъ остати съде камень на камен-и.

Ne imat ostati s'de kamen na kamen-i.
NEG have.3SG.PRS.IND leave.INF here stone PREP stone-M.LOC.SG
'there shall not be left one stone upon another'
Duridanov 1991: 418 citing Mark 13.2 ¹⁴

- (54) Стефан ще тича.
Stefan šte tiča.
Stefan FUT run.IPFV.3SG.PRS
'Stefan will run.' (constructed example)

- (55) Стефан няма да тича.
Stefan njama da tič-a.
Stefan NEGEX SUB run.IPFV-1SG.PRS
'Stefan will not run.' (constructed example)

Generally, the Bulgarian facts cited above highlight the need to test diachronic hypotheses by diachronic data whenever possible.

5 Summary

Negation in Bulgarian operates on clause, constituent or word level. The language follows several wide-spread cross-linguistic trends: its SN marker is a pre-verbal particle, it has a special negative existential, several dedicated encodings of the prohibitive and negative indefinite pronouns are abundantly used with predicate negation. A variant of the Balkan subordinate clause construction with an auxiliary in the matrix clause and the proposition to be negated in the subordinate clause is used for the encoding of predications set in the future as well as for several variants of prohibitive. The negative lexicalizations identified in the language also fall into known cross-linguistic tendencies, namely lexicalizing of expressions for nonexistence, lack of ability and lack of knowledge. Features that are perhaps typologically less common include the presence of special emphatic negators which also function as coordinative negators as well as the presence of a special negative question particle. However, this conclusion may be subject to revision given that world-wide typologies of these features are still in demand. The main expressions of negation in Bulgarian are summarized in Table 3 below.

¹⁴The glossing follows the one offered in the Proiel Project, specifically for this verse, <http://foni.uio.no/proiel/sentences/37108>; note that a registration, free of charge, is required in order to access the data in the project. The translation is cited from the King James Bible Online, <https://thekingsbible.com/Bible/41/13>.

Table 3: Expressions of negation in Bulgarian

Negative expression	Word class	Function
<i>не/не</i>	particle	Standard negation non-future, negative reply, constituent negator, expletive negator
<i>няма/няма</i>	auxiliary, verb	Standard negation future, negative existential, negative reply
<i>недей/nedej</i>	auxiliary	prohibitive auxiliary
<i>немой/немој</i>	auxiliary	prohibitive auxiliary (non-standard variants)
<i>стига/stiga</i> ‘enough’	auxiliary	prohibitive auxiliary
<i>невем/nevem</i>	invariable verb form	‘I don’t know’ (non-standard variant)
<i>нито/ни / nito/ni</i>	particle	emphatic negator, coordinative negator
<i>нима/nima</i>	particle	negative question particle

Abbreviations

ACTIVE	active	M	masculine
ADJ	adjective	NEG	negation/negator
ADV	adverb(ial)	NEGEX	negative existential
AOR	aorist	NMLZ	nominalization
DAT	dative	OBJ	object
DEF	definite	OBL	oblique
DIM	diminutive	PFV	perfective
EMPH	emphatic	PL	plural
ENC	emphatic negative coordination	POSS	possessive
F	feminine	PPFX	prefix
FUT	future	PREP	preposition
IMP	imperative	PRS	present tense
IMPF	imperfect	PST	past tense
INF	infinitive	PTCP	participle
IPFV	imperfective	Q	question
IVF	Infinite Verb Form	REFL	reflexive
LINK	linking morpheme	SG	singular
		SN	standard negation
		SUB	subordinator

Acknowledgements

I would like to thank the two anonymous reviewers and likewise Matti Miestamo and Björn Wiemer for their suggestions, questions and constructive criticism, all of which improved this article substantially and led to the correction of many mistakes. Needless to say, all shortcomings remain my own.

Many thanks also to Nina Knobloch and Sebastian Nordhoff for patiently answering my questions about various LaTeX issues. A big thank you too to Héloïse Calame for her meticulous work and careful proofreading.

The first version of this article was written while locked up at home during the COVID19 pandemic. Many thanks to my mom, Zhivka Veselinova, and to my daughter, Vera-Kathleen, for not uttering a single sound (зѣк/гѣк) while I worked.

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Negation in Pashto

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In this paper, we explore negation in Pashto – an Eastern Iranian language spoken mainly in Pakistan and Afghanistan. Based on the Yousafzai dialect of Pashto, with the questionnaire provided by the editors as our main instrument, we explore e.g., standard negation, negation in non-declaratives, stative predications, and negation in non-main clauses. Standard negation in Pashto is expressed with a single negative particle *nə*, typically added pre-verbally. For imperatives, there is a dedicated negative particle *mə*, also added pre-verbally, constituting the only formal contrast between imperatives and corresponding prohibitives. No structural differences between negation in main clauses and negation in non-main clauses of simplex verbs, or in non-periphrastic categories, have been observed, whereas there are instances of structural asymmetry in some periphrastically expressed verbal categories. Pashto displays paradigmatic asymmetry in that positive imperatives can make an aspectual distinction between perfective and imperfective, whereas negative imperatives are aspectually neutralized. Negation in Pashto can be further reinforced by changing the position of the negative element to occur post-verbally. Clauses with negated pronouns or adverbs always display negative concord.

Keywords: Iranian, negative particle, paradigmatic asymmetry, Pashto, structural asymmetry.

1 Introduction

The aim of this paper is to explore negation in Pashto (ISO: **pbu**, Glottocode: **nort2646**) in a typological perspective. Although there are several book-length grammatical descriptions of Pashto (Babrakzai 1999, David 2014, Grjunberg 1987, Lorenz 1979, Penzl 1955, Tegey & Robson 1996), there is still no dedicated study of negation in the language. The language material used for the present study was almost exclusively elicited by means of the *Questionnaire for describing the negation system of a language* designed by Matti Miestamo and subsequently revised together with Ljuba Veselinova (Miestamo 2025). The target variety is a

northeastern dialect of Pashto often referred to as Yousafzai Pashto, spoken in the northern part of Khyber Pakhtunkhwa province of Pakistan. This is the native language of one of the co-authors and is also considered the basis of literary Pashto in Pakistan. Our assumption is that the characteristics of negation emerging in our description is largely common to all of the major varieties of Pashto, in Pakistan as well as in Afghanistan. In our examples, we have essentially adopted the broad phonemic transcription of Pashto used by David (2014), while the glossing reflects our own analytical choices.

Pashto is an East Iranian language spoken primarily in Pakistan and Afghanistan. Its exact classification in relation to other Iranian languages is in no way final, but suffice it to say that some of its closest relatives within Iranian are found among the so-called Pamir languages (spoken by comparatively small populations in northeastern Afghanistan and in adjacent areas of Pakistan and Tajikistan), whereas its relatedness to e.g. Farsi-Dari-Tajik (considered West Iranian) is of a much more distant kind (Windfuhr 2009: 9–15; Skjaervø 1989a: 370; MacKenzie 2009: 443). Pashto is the second largest language of Pakistan, spoken by approximately 18 per cent of the population, surpassed only by Punjabi.¹ Most speakers are found in the west and the northwest of the country, with a main concentration in the northwestern Khyber Pakhtunkhwa province, but there are also large speaker populations in Balochistan and in all of the major cities. In Afghanistan, Pashto enjoys the status of official language, along with Dari, and is a main native language in the east, south and southwest of the country, corresponding to approximately 50 per cent of the total population (Robson & Tegey 2009: 721). Outside of Pakistan and Afghanistan, Pashto is also spoken by sizeable groups in India, Iran and the United Arab Emirates. Although there is no indisputable statistics when it comes to the number of speakers, there is an estimated figure of 30 to 50 million Pashto speakers in total, making it the most widely spoken Iranian language after Persian (MacKenzie 2009: 460). Although Pashto exhibits significant linguistic variation, and relatively little (conscious or spontaneous) standardization, there is a high level of mutual intelligibility, even over great geographical distances (Robson & Tegey 2009: 721–722, 766). The latter can most likely be attributed to the fact that all major variation is phonological and lexical, rather than morphosyntactic (MacKenzie 1959: 231; Elfenbein 1997: 736).

Pashto is a strongly head-final language, typically displaying an SOV clause word order. However, it also has a large inventory of second-position clitics, encoding modal, pronominal as well as adverbial meanings (Tegey 1977, Pate 2012).

¹Pakistan Bureau of Statistics. 2023. Final Results of Census-2017. <https://www.pbs.gov.pk/content/final-results-census-2017-0> (23 August, 2023).

In the past tenses, nominal as well as verbal alignment is ergative-absolutive, while it is fully nominative-accusative in non-past tenses. From an Iranian perspective, Pashto has an unusually complex nominal and verbal morphology (MacKenzie 2009; Grjunberg 1987: 111), with added complexities in the form of stem and stress alternations (Morgenstierne 1942: 111). Nouns inflect for gender (masculine, feminine), number (singular, plural) and case (primarily contrasting direct and oblique). Numerous case relations are expressed by pre- and postpositions, or a combination of both. Verbs inflect for person, number and gender, and have two stems, one for present and another for past. Based on those stems, morphologically distinct imperfective vs. perfective verbs (both in the present and in the past) are formed. A few other verbal categories, including perfect and pluperfect, are formed periphrastically with auxiliaries derived from ‘be’ and ‘become’. Pashto verbs are a closed rather than an open class, a feature that is clearly areal in its distribution, with new predicates entering the language via productive light verb constructions (to a large extent overlapping with the class of denominal verbs) with *kedal* ‘to become’ and *kol* (*kawəl*) ‘to do, make’ (Butt 2010: 50; David & Goodman 2014: 186; Liljegren 2010: 51–52; Masica 1993; Wohlgemuth 2009: 152–155).

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

In Pashto, standard negation, as defined and applied by e.g., Miestamo (2005), is expressed with a negative particle *nə* (alternatively *na*, particularly in its stressed realization) which typically precedes the finite verb of a clause. Example (1) shows a declarative verbal main clause, in this case in the present imperfective, first in the affirmative, (1a), and then in the corresponding negative clause, (1b).

- (1) a. Šādo gaḍ-eg-i.
 monkey dance-PRS-3
 ‘The monkey is dancing.’
 b. Šādo nə gaḍ-eg-i.
 monkey NEG dance-PRS-3
 ‘The monkey is not dancing.’

There are good reasons to treat *nə* as a particle rather than an affix. On the one hand, it does form a prosodic unit with the finite verb, and it also carries the main stress of the verb phrase when occurring in this preverbal position (Tegey 1977: 110). When, for instance, an *a*-initial verb (a distinct verb class in Pashto),

e.g., *axli* in (2a), is negated, the vowel hiatus creates a long vowel, as in *nāxli* in (2b).

- (2) a. Kamāl kitāb axl-i.
Kamal book take.PRS-3
'Kamal is buying the book.'
b. Kamāl kitāb nāxl-i.
Kamal book NEG.take.PRS-3
'Kamal is not buying the book.'

On the other hand, the negative particle is sometimes moved to the end of the utterance, i.e. occurring after the finite verb, thus lending support to Pashto standard negation as essentially non-affixal and syntactic (Dahl 1979: 83–84). The post-verbal, or utterance-final, position has a function of placing emphasis on the negation or stressing the impossibility of the proposition, as earlier noted by e.g. Skjaervø (1989b: 398). Example (3a) shows a regular negative clause, and (3b) shows the corresponding emphatic negative clause with a right-dislocated *na*. See §4.4.

- (3) a. Haya ye nə darkaw-i.
3SG.DIST.DR 3.CLT NEG give.you.IPFV-3
'She is not giving it to you.'
b. Haya ye darkaw-i na.
3SG.DIST.DR 3.CLT give.you.IPFV-3 NEG
'She is not ever giving it to you.'

Pashto standard negation is largely symmetric. Nearly every member of the verb paradigm used in the affirmative can also appear in the negative. Apart from the presence of the negative marker *nə*, negative declarative clauses expressed in other non-periphrastic tense-aspect categories, show no structural differences as compared to their corresponding affirmative expressions. In (4), an affirmative clause in the past imperfective, another category formed exclusively by verb morphology, is shown with its corresponding negative clause.

- (4) a. Šādo gaḍ-ed-o.
monkey dance-PST-3SG.M
'The monkey was dancing.'
b. Šādo nə gaḍ-ed-o.
monkey NEG dance-PST-3SG.M
'The monkey was not dancing.'

The same grammatical categories are also available in negative as well as in affirmative clauses, as can be seen in the following examples, in (5a) a negated past imperfective clause with feminine singular agreement, and in (5b) a negated clause with plural agreement.

- (5) a. Šādogay nə gaḍ-ed-a.
 female.monkey NEG dance-PST-3SG
 ‘The female monkey was not dancing.’
 b. Šādo-gān nə gaḍ-ed-əl.
 monkey-PL NEG dance-PST-3PL.M
 ‘The monkeys were not dancing.’

In addition to suffixing verb morphology, some crucial aspectual and modal differentiations are expressed with particles. That is for instance the case with the past perfective, which is (regularly) expressed with the prefixed perfective marker *wə*, as in (6), and with the future, which is expressed with the modal clitic *ba*, as in (7). It should be noted that the negative particle, provided it is placed in pre-verbal position, invariably occurs between the aspectual/modal marker(s) and the inflected verb stem, as also noted by Brugman and David (2014: 408).

- (6) a. Šādo wə-gaḍ-ed-o.
 monkey PFV-dance-PST-3SG
 ‘The monkey danced.’
 b. Šādo wə-nə-gaḍ-ed-o.
 monkey PFV-NEG-dance-PST-3SG
 ‘The monkey did not dance.’
 (7) a. Šādo ba gaḍ-eg-i.
 monkey FUT dance-PRS-3
 ‘The monkey will be dancing.’
 b. Šādo ba nə gaḍ-eg-i.
 monkey FUT NEG dance-PRS-3
 ‘The monkey will not be dancing.’

Pashto transitive clauses in the past tenses, as the ones in (8), follow an ergative alignment pattern, in which the finite verb agrees with the direct object and the subject is expressed in a non-direct case form. Even in such cases a symmetrical relationship is maintained between affirmatives and their corresponding negatives.

- (8) a. Saṛi mewa wə-xwaṛ-a.
 man.OBL fruit(F) PFV-eat.PST-3SG.F
 ‘The man ate the fruit.’
 b. Saṛi mewa wə-nə-xwaṛ-a.
 man.OBL fruit(F) PFV-NEG-eat.PST-3SG.F
 ‘The man didn’t eat the fruit.’

However, in the compound (i.e. periphrastically formed) verbal categories, such as in the present and past perfect, or in the potential categories, the finite auxiliary always follows the main (participial) verb in the affirmative, as in the present perfect clause in (9a), whereas in the negative, the negated, inflected, auxiliary can occur either before the participle, as in (9b), or after the participle, as in (9c). It should be noted that it is the pre-participle order that is the unmarked one, whereas the post-participle order puts focus or emphasis on the negation (and corresponds in function to the dislocated negative particle in example (3b) above).

- (9) a. Kamāl rāyl-ē dē.
 Kamal come.PFV-PTCP.SG.M be.PRS.3SG.M
 ‘Kamal has come.’
 b. Kamāl nə dē rāyl-ē.
 Kamal NEG be.PRS.3SG.M come.PFV-PTCP.SG.M
 ‘Kamal hasn’t come.’
 c. Kamāl rāyl-ē nə dē.
 Kamal come.PFV-PTCP.SG.M NEG be.PRS.3SG.M
 ‘Kamal has *not* come.’

As was mentioned in §1, numerous predicates in Pashto are formed with a non-verb element (normally an adjective or a noun) and a “light verb” (or verbalizer), of which *kedəl* ‘to become’ (forming intransitive verbs) and *kawəl* (or *kol*) ‘to do, make’ (forming transitive verbs) are the most productive (Brugman & David 2014: 401–403). This large group of Pashto verbs has variously been referred to as denominal verbs (David & Goodman 2014: 200–203) and derivative verbs (Robson & Tegey 2009: 740; Tegey & Robson 1996: 105), although these terms are not entirely overlapping in all treatments of Pashto verbs. In reality, verbs of this type occur along a continuum of lexicalization, from those in which the two components are phonologically fused in some parts of the verb paradigm to those (newer ones) that remain more phrase-like. When clauses with such complex

verbs are negated in the imperfective, the negative particle *nə* may occur either before the entire construction, as in (10b), or immediately before the inflected verb, as in (11b), depending on the degree of fusion/lexicalization.²

- (10) a. *Dā wādə keg-i?*
 3SG.F.DR marriage become.IPFV.PRS-3
 ‘Is she getting married?’
 b. *Na, dā nə wādə keg-i.*
 no 3SG.F.DR NEG marriage become.IPFV.PRS-3
 ‘No, she is not getting married.’
- (11) a. *Āyā kamāl wādə kaw-i?*
 Q Kamal marriage do.IPFV.PRS-3
 ‘Is Kamal getting married?’
 b. *Na, haya os wādə nə kaw-i.*
 no 3SG.DIST.DR now marriage NEG do.IPFV.PRS-3
 ‘No, he is not getting married now.’

In the perfective, however, the two parts of the complex are always separated by the negation, as can be seen in the examples (12) and (13). Note, that when the verbs ‘become’ and ‘do’ are used as verbalizers (i.e. not as simplex verbs), the perfective is not formed with the prefix *wə-*, as in (6) and (8); the aspectual contrasts are instead achieved by means of stem alternations: *keg-* (IPFV.PRS), *ked-* (IPFV.PST), *š-* (PFV.PRS), *šw-* (PFV.PST) ‘become’; *kaw-* (IPFV), *kɾ-* (PFV) ‘do’.

- (12) *Də bača tror parun wādə nə šw-a.*
 of Bacha aunt yesterday marriage NEG become.PFV.PST-SG.F
 ‘Bacha’s aunt didn’t get married yesterday.’
- (13) *Də bača trə parun wādə nə wə kaɾ-ē.*
 of Bacha uncle yesterday marriage NEG be.PST.3SG.M do.PFV-PTCP.SG.M
 ‘Bacha’s uncle didn’t get married yesterday.’

One particular construction that deserves to be mentioned is *lā nə* (< *lā* ‘still, even, yet’ + the negative particle *nə*), the semantic equivalent of the English phasal adverbial ‘not yet’. An example is given in (14) of an affirmative stative proposition with *lā* ‘[is] still’ and its corresponding negative with *lā nə*.

²Note the intransitive complex construction that is used with reference to female persons getting married, and the corresponding transitive one that is used with reference to male persons, reflecting the patrilocal marriage pattern typically observed in the Pashtun society (Grima 1993: 52–57).

- (14) a. Kamāl lā dalta dē.
Kamal still here be.PRS.3SG.M
'Kamal is still here.'
- b. Kamāl lā dalta nə dē.
Kamal yet here NEG be.PRS.3SG.M
'Kamal is not here yet.'

As is shown in (15), a clause containing *lā nə*, can occur as the negative answer to a question in which *lāwal* (< *lā awal* lit. 'still first'), corresponding to the phasal adverbial 'already', is used.

- (15) a. Kamāl lāwal tal-ē dē?
Kamal already go.IPFV.PRS-PTCP.3SG.M be.PRS.3SG.M
'Has Kamal already gone?'
- b. Na, kamāl lā nə dē tal-ē.
no Kamal still NEG be.PRS.3SG.M go.IPFV.PST-PTCP.SG.M
'No, Kamal has not yet gone.'

We leave it open to further examination, and the availability of more data, as to whether the different interpretations of the construction can be related to telicity (as suggested by one of the reviewers).

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Pashto prohibitives have a dedicated negative construction, different in form from standard negation. This is the globally most commonly occurring type, according to *van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev)*'s (2013) cross-linguistic study of prohibitives. The particle *mə* (alternatively *ma*) typically occurs before the second singular or plural imperative verb form, as can be seen in example (16).

- (16) a. Wāpas ye rāwṛ-a!
back 3.CLT bring.me-IMP.SG
'Return it!'
- b. Wāpas ye mə rāwṛ-a!
back 3.CLT NEG bring.me-IMP.SG
'Don't return it!'

There is an asymmetry in the imperative. For many verbs, a perfective and an imperfective imperative are available. However, there is normally only one corresponding prohibitive construction using the imperfective, as can be seen in examples (17–19).³ This is an example of what Miestamo (2005: 114) labels paradigmatic asymmetry of type A/Cat/TAM, in which neutralization between aspectual distinctions arises in the negative. Commands are typically expressed with perfective imperatives, as in (17a), (18a) and (19a), but imperfective imperatives ((17b), (18b) and (19b)) can be described as intensifying or adding aspects of urgency, repetition or continuation (David & Goodman 2014: 284), and, at times, to show emphasis on the action. Similar effects of using the imperfective in imperatives have been observed for e.g., Bulgarian and Kabyle (pc. Ljuba Veselinova).

- (17) a. Wə-xwar-a!
PFV-eat.PRS-IMP.SG
'Eat (it)!'
b. Xwar-a!
eat.PRS-IMP.SG
'Go on and eat (it)!'
c. Mə xwar-a!
NEG eat.PRS-IMP.SG
'Don't eat (it)!'
- (18) a. Lār š-a!
go.PFV become.PFV.PRS-IMP.SG
'Go!'
b. Z-a!
go.IPFV.PRS-IMP.SG
'Get going!'
c. Mə z-a!
NEG go.IPFV.PRS-IMP.SG
'Don't go!'
- (19) a. Bača ta wə-wāy-a!
Bacha to PFV-tell.PRS-IMP.SG
'Tell Bacha!'

³This aspectual neutralization in the negative also applies to jussives, i.e., constructions in which the deontic particle *de* is used in order to express first and third person obligation (or non-obligation in the corresponding propositions with the standard negation *nə*).

- b. Bača ta wāy-a!
 Bacha to tell.PRS-IMP.SG
 ‘Keep telling Bacha!’
- c. Bača ta mə wāy-a!
 Bacha to NEG tell.PRS-IMP.SG
 ‘Don’t tell Bacha!’

Just like the particle *nə* used in standard negation, the particle *mə* can occur sentence-finally, too. In such cases, it is to show a special focus or put emphasis on the negation. See the contrasting examples in (20).

- (20) a. Mə ye axl-a!
 NEG 3.CLT take.PRS-IMP.SG
 ‘Don’t take it!’
- b. Axl-a ye ma!
 take.PRS-IMP.SG 3.CLT NEG
 ‘Don’t take it!’

The alternation between a pre-verbal and non-emphatic *mə* and an utterance-final and emphatic *ma* is parallel to the previously mentioned (§2.1) alternation between *nə* and *na*.

Another somewhat special case, that deserves to be mentioned, is the use of *mə* with second person singular inflected indicative verb forms, instead of with an imperative form, in a few set constructions with an optative meaning. These are for instance found in greetings or routine expression of well-wishing or encouragement. The expression in (21) may typically be uttered by an acquaintance addressing a farmer working in his field as he passes by, thus wishing him luck and good health. Similarly, the expression in (22) may be uttered encouragingly to another participant in a group-singing session to go on singing.

- (21) Stəṛē mə š-e!
 tired.SG.M NEG become.PFV.PRS-2SG
 ‘May you not get tired!’
- (22) Xwār mə š-e!
 poor NEG become.PFV.PRS-2SG
 ‘May you not become weak!’

As exemplified by David & Goodman (2014: 275–276), the corresponding affirmative expression *xwār še* ‘may you be miserable!’ can be used to express an ill-wish, or even a curse.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

In many non-verbal clauses too, the negation particle *nə* is used, to negate equation (23), proper inclusion (24), attribution (including temporary attribution) (25), and locative predication (26), just like it is applied in standard negation.

(23) Equation

- a. Bača zəmə ustāz dē.
Bacha 1SG.POSS teacher be.PRS.3SG.M
'Bacha is my teacher.'
- b. Bača zəmə ustāz nə dē.
Bacha 1SG.POSS teacher NEG be.PRS.3SG.M
'Bacha is not my teacher.'

(24) Proper inclusion

- a. Malang yaw tarkān dē.
Malang one carpenter be.PRS.3SG.M
'Malang is a carpenter.'
- b. Malang yaw tarkān nə dē.
Malang one carpenter NEG be.PRS.3SG.M
'Malang is not a carpenter.'

(25) Attribution

- a. Adam lewanē dē.
Adam insane.SG.M be.PRS.3SG.M
'Adam is insane.'
- b. Adam lewanē nə dē.
Adam insane.SG.M NEG be.PRS.3SG.M
'Adam is not insane.'
- c. Adam os xapa nə dē.
Adam now sad NEG be.PRS.3SG.M
'Adam is not sad now.' [temporal attribution]

(26) Locative predication

- a. Bača pa kor dē.
Bacha at house be.PRS.3SG.M
'Bacha is at home.'

- b. Bača pa kor nə dē.
Bacha at house NEG be.PRS.3SG.M
'Bacha is not at home.'

However, existential (27) and, at least some, possessive predications (28) make use of a non-inflected existential negator (NegEx), the particle *nište* 'doesn't exist, isn't there, isn't available' (< *nə šte*) for negating. This reflects a general cross-linguistic tendency (Veselinova 2013: 123–124). The corresponding affirmative predications use a dedicated existential copula *šte* 'exists, is there, is available'.

(27) Existential predication

- a. Pa zangal ki mzari šte.
in forest in lion.PL EX
'There are lions in the forest.'
- b. Pa zangal ki mzari nište.
in forest in lion.PL NEGEX
'There are no lions in the forest.'

(28) Possessive predication

- a. Adam sara topak šte.
Adam with gun EX
'Adam has a gun.'
- b. Adam sara topak nište.
Adam with gun NEGEX
'Adam does not have a gun.'

NegEx can also be used in contrastive negation, when the presence of somebody or something in one place is contrasted with its absence in another place. In this case, however, the affirmative part is expressed with the copula used in locative predication, as in (29).

- (29) Kamal hujra ki dē kor ki nište.
Kamal hujra in be.PRS.SG.M home in NEGEX
'Kamal is at the *hujra* (village common house), not at home.'

Additionally, NegEx can carry a connotation of being gone for good, i.e., having died, as in (30).

- (30) Zəmung də stargo ašnā os nište.
 1PL.POSS of eye.PL.OBL known now NEGEX
 ‘(People) known to our eyes are no more (alive).’

Occasionally, it can be used adjectivally, in a contracted form, *ništ*, again with the sense ‘gone’, ‘is no more’, as in (31), in this case along with the inflected form of ‘become’.

- (31) Zəmung xwag-ə yār-ān os ništ š-u.
 1PL.POSS sweet-PL.M friend-PL now gone become.PFV.PRS-1PL
 ‘Our sweet friends are now gone.’

Certain locative predications may alternatively use the construction in (26) and the one normally associated with existential predication, as in (27). This is particularly the case if the presence of a third person is queried over the phone (Tegey & Robson 1996: 93–94), as in (32a). The reply may use either construction, but it is more common for the negative reply to make use of the negative existential, as in (32b), and the affirmative to use the inflected copula *dē*, etc., as in (32c).

- (32) a. Kamāl pa kor ki šte?
 Kamal in house in EX
 ‘Is Kamal at home (i.e. available)?’
 b. Na, kamāl pa kor ki nište.
 no Kamal in house in NEGEX
 ‘No, Kamal is not at home.’
 c. Ao, kamāl pa kor ki dē.
 yes Kamal in house in be.PRS.3SG.M
 ‘Yes, Kamal is at home.’

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Negation in Pashto dependent and subordinate clauses is expressed with the negation particle *nə*, just like in standard negation. The following examples illustrate the use of it in both a finite, relative clause (33), and in a non-finite, noun complement, clause (34).

- (33) Haya halək [če imtihān ye nə šo pās
 that.DR boy COMP test 3.CLT NEG become.PFV.PST.3SG.M passing
 kol-e] skul prexud.
 do.PFV.PST-OPT school abandon.PST.PFV.3SG.M
 ‘The boy [who could not pass the examination] left school.’
- (34) [Ṭem nə zāya kol] yaw xa ādat dē.
 time NEG wastage do.INF one good habit be.PRS.3SG.M
 ‘[Wasting no time] is a good habit.’

The main verb of the subordinate clause in (33) is part of a complex verb construction, *pās kol* ‘to pass, succeed’, and occurs here in the past potential, in which it is the auxiliary *šo* that is inflected and is immediately preceded by the negation particle. The non-finite verb in the noun complement in (34) is also part of a complex verb, *zāya kol* ‘to waste’; in this case, the negation particle precedes the complex verb construction as a whole.

In Youzafzai Pashto, negative purpose could be expressed in two different ways. Either the verb in the subordinate clause that is introduced with the complementizer *če* is negated, as in (35), also mentioned by Pate (2012: 85), or the complementizer itself is negated, *hasi na če* ‘thus not’, as in (36). Note that in the latter case, the verb in the purpose clause is not negated in concord.

- (35) Zar kaw-a če dar bāndi nāwaxtā nə š-i.
 quick do.IPFV-IMP.SG COMP 2 on late NEG become.PFV.PRS-3
 ‘Hurry up, lest you get late.’
- (36) Zar kaw-a hasi na če dar bāndi nāwaxtā
 quick do.IPFV-IMP.SG thus NEG COMP 2 on late
 š-i.
 become.PFV.PRS-3
 ‘Hurry up, lest you should get late.’

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

No clear examples of negative lexicalizations have been found in Pashto.

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

In Pashto, negative replies to polar questions are often expressed by using a one-word negative reply *na*, similar in use to English ‘no’ (see further examples above: (10b), (11b), (32b)). Note the following two polar questions, (37Q) and (38Q), and their answers, (37A) and (38A), respectively.

- (37) Q: Dā spē yap-i?
this.DR dog bark-3
‘Is the dog barking?’⁴

A: Na!
no
‘No (it is not barking)!’

- (38) Q: Dā spē nā yap-i?
this.DR dog NEG bark-3
‘Isn’t the dog barking?’

A: Na!
no
‘No (it is not barking)!’

HC: @Sebastian/LSP we need the sublinks to work here too (in paragraph right before, 37A, 37Q, 38A, 38Q)

As these examples show, the polarity particle *na* expresses in both cases a negative answer, in the case of a positive question, a non-confirmation of the positive polarity of the question, and in the case of a negative question, a confirmation of its negative polarity. It is therefore an example of a so-called yes-no answer system (König & Siemund 2007: 320–321).

3.2 Negative indefinites and adverbs

The negation of indefinite pronouns and adverbs (corresponding to English ‘nobody’, ‘no-one’, ‘nowhere’, ‘never’) is obtained by prefixing *hīts* ‘none’ to an indefinite pronoun or adverb. Some examples are given in (39–42). Note the negative concord, i.e. that also the verb in those clauses must be negated, with the standard negation *nā* as in (39), (41) and (43), the negative existential *nište*, as in (40),

⁴Polar questions with an utterance-initial question particle *āyā*, as reported by Brugman & David (2014: 417), are also observed in Youzafzai Pashto. In everyday speech, however, polar questions are normally identical to statements apart from an utterance-final rising pitch in questions, whereas the *āyā*-construction is mostly used in formal speech.

or the negative prohibitive particle *ma*, as in (42). Note that *hīts* can be left out in (43), or be entirely replaced by *bəl*, as in (44), to express a negative exclusivity, ‘nobody else’.

- (39) Haya hīts kala nə š-i rātl-e.
3SG.DIST.DR none when NEG become.PFV.PRS-3 come.IPFV.PST-OPT
‘She can never come.’
- (40) Apīm was hīts čarta nište.
opium now none where NEGEX
‘Opium is now found nowhere.’
- (41) Zəmā hīts tsok mrasta nə kaw-i.
1SG.POSS none who.DR help NEG do.IPFV.PRS-3
‘Nobody helps me.’
- (42) Xpala jəba hīts kala mə pregd-a.
own language none when NEG abandon.PRS-IMP.SG
‘Never give up your own language!’
- (43) Q: ‘What are you buying?’
A: Zə (hīts) tsə nāxl-əm.
1SG.NOM none what NEG.buy.IPFV.PRS-1SG
‘I’m buying nothing.’
- (44) Xesta čer turzən dē; bəl tsok dāse nə
Khesta very brave be.PRS.3SG.M other who.DR like.that NEG
š-i kaw-e.
become.PFV.PRS-3 do.IPFV.PRS-OPT
‘Khesta is so brave. Nobody else can do it.’

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

The Pashto lexicon includes numerous, particularly adjectival, derivations that encode absence, opposition or antonymy. A number of different negating derivational prefixes occur, approximately corresponding to English ‘-less’, ‘un-’, ‘non-’, ‘in-’, etc. The most common such negating prefixes are *nā-*, *be-* and *la-*. The prefix *nā-* is the most productive, while *be-* (of Persian origin) mostly occurs with roots of Persian (or Perso-Arabic) origin, and *lā-* (of Arabic origin) primarily occurs with roots of Arabic origin. Some examples are displayed in Table 1.

Table 1: Negative derivation in Pashto

Root	Negative prefix	Derivation
<i>joṛ</i> ‘healthy, well’ ADJ	<i>nā-</i>	<i>nājoṛa</i> ‘unwell, sick’ ADJ
<i>roy</i> ‘complete, healthy, well’ ADJ		<i>nāroya</i> ‘incomplete, unwell, sick’ ADJ
<i>poha</i> ‘intelligent, learned’ ADJ		<i>nāpoha</i> ‘ignorant, foolish’ ADJ
<i>āšnā</i> ‘acquaintance’ N		<i>nāšnā</i> ‘unknown, strange’ ADJ
<i>hak</i> ‘just’ ADJ, N		<i>nāhak</i> ‘unjust’ ADJ
<i>rawā</i> ‘lawful, permitted’ ADJ		<i>nārawā</i> ‘illegal, unlawful’ ADJ
<i>tars</i> ‘fear’ N		<i>nātars</i> ‘pitiless, fearless’ ADJ
<i>pedā</i> ‘born, created’ ADJ		<i>nāped</i> ‘rare, unavailable’ ADJ
<i>lew</i> ‘plastering’ N		<i>nālewa</i> ‘not plastered’ ADJ
<i>waxt</i> ‘time’ N		<i>nāwaxta</i> ‘late, out of time’ ADJ
<i>gumān</i> ‘expectation, thought’ N		<i>nāgumāna</i> ‘unexpected’ ADJ
<i>saritob</i> ‘human nature’ N	<i>be-</i>	<i>besaritoba</i> ‘immodest’ ADJ
<i>kār</i> ‘work’ N		<i>bekāra</i> ‘useless’ ADJ
<i>darak</i> ‘place; trace’ N		<i>bedaraka</i> ‘lost, without direction’ ADJ
<i>akal</i> ‘wisdom, reason’ N		<i>beakla</i> ‘unwise, stupid’ ADJ
<i>waxt</i> ‘time’ N		<i>bewaxta</i> ‘untimely’ ADJ
<i>hāsil</i> ‘produce, profit’ N	<i>lā-</i>	<i>lāhāsil</i> ‘fruitless’ ADJ
<i>parwā</i> ‘care, concern’ N		<i>lāparwā</i> ‘careless’ ADJ

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Pashto clausal negation, expressed with a pre-verbal negative particle, typically takes scope over the proposition as a whole, as in (45a). However, the scope can also be narrowed down to a specific lower-level constituent by means of prosodic stress (while the sentence structure remains unaffected). In (45b), emphatic stress on the subject pronoun *hayo* shifts the scope of negation from the proposition as a whole to the subject argument of the clause. The sentence now means that ‘they’, i.e., a few specific people, are not coming to the village, while some others might be coming. Similarly, in (45c), emphatic stress on *kāli* shifts the scope of negation to the goal, meaning that they are coming to the village rather than to some other place, such as the city, which could be uttered with reference to some expected visitors coming from abroad.

- (45) a. *Hayo kāli ta nə rāz-i.*
 3PL.DIST.DR village.OBL to NEG come.IPFV.PRS-3
 ‘They are not coming to the village.’

- b. Hayo kəli ta nə rāz-i.
 3PL.DIST.DR village.OBL to NEG come.IPFV.PRS-3
 ‘They are not coming to the village.’
- c. Hayo kəli ta nə rāz-i.
 3PL.DIST.DR village.OBL to NEG come.IPFV.PRS-3
 ‘They are not coming *to the village*.’

Another way of narrowing down the scope of negation is by negating indefinite pronouns or adverbs with *hīts* ‘none’ in negative concord with a clause-level negative particle such as *nə*, as previously described in §3.2.

4.2 Negative polarity

The following is by no means intended as an exhaustive list (Table 2), but covers some of the most frequent and prominent negative polarity items in Pashto. Note that many of them include *hīts* as a component, co-lexicalized with, and sometimes phonologically fused, with an indefinite (or interrogative) pronoun/adverb (see §3.2), alternatively occurs as a nominal modifier (e.g. with *kār* ‘work’, *waxt* ‘time’, *sūrat* ‘image’). In each case this negative polarity item displays negative concord with a clause-level negative particle. It is probably more correct to describe these as negative polarity constructions along with the clause-level negative particle rather than as negative polarity items in isolation (especially since *hīts* in some cases can be left out, while the negative meaning of the sentence remains).

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

As shown in many other examples, clausal negation is largely symmetric in Pashto. The addition of a negative particle is for most of the TAM categories the only formal difference between a negative and a corresponding affirmative clause. Neither is case marking in any way affected under negation. As can be seen in the present tense utterances in (46), the direct case marking of the transitive subject and the oblique case marking of the pronominal direct object remains the same, whether affirmative or negative.

- (46) a. Spē mā xwar-i.
 dog.DR 1SG.OBL eat.PRS-3
 ‘The dog is biting me.’

Table 2: Negative Polarity Items (NPIs) in Pashto

Form	Meaning	Use (licencing conditions)
<i>hīts-tsok</i>	‘anybody, nobody’	negated nominative NP with human reference
<i>bəl-tsok</i>	‘anybody else, nobody else’	negated nominative NP with human reference
<i>hīts-čā, hī-čā</i>	‘anybody, nobody’	negated non-nominative NP with human reference
<i>bəl-čā</i>	‘anybody else, nobody else’	negated non-nominative NP with human reference
<i>(hīts-)tsə</i>	‘anything, nothing’	negated NP with inanimate reference
<i>hīts-kār</i>	‘anything, nothing’	negated NP with reference to activity
<i>hīts-šē</i>	‘anything, nothing’	negated NP with reference to inanimate physical entity
<i>hīts-čerta, hī-čerta</i>	‘anywhere, nowhere’	negated locational adverbial
<i>hīts-čere, hī-čere</i>	‘never’	negated time adverbial
<i>hīts-kala</i>	‘never’	negated time adverbial
<i>hīts-waxt</i>	‘never’	negated time adverbial
<i>hīts-tor</i>	‘by no means, in no way’	negated manner adverbial
<i>hīts-sūrat</i>	‘by no means, in no way’	negated manner adverbial

- b. Spē mā nə xwar-i.
 dog.DR 1SG.OBL NEG eat.PRS-3
 ‘The dog is not biting me.’

Similarly, in (47), when the ergative alignment of the corresponding past tense utterances assigns oblique case to the transitive subject and direct case to the pronominal direct object, no changes as far as case marking takes place between the affirmative expression and the corresponding negative one.

- (47) a. Spi zə wə-xwar-əm.
 dog.OBL 1SG.DR PFV-eat.PST-1SG
 ‘The dog bit me.’
 b. Spi zə wə-nə-xwar-əm.
 dog.OBL 1SG.DR PFV-NEG-eat.PST-1SG
 ‘The dog did not bite me.’

4.4 Reinforcing negation

As already noted, and exemplified in (3b), movement of the negative particle from its unmarked pre-verbal position to the post-verbal, or utterance-final, posi-

tion has a function of reinforcing the negation. In periphrastically formed verbal tenses, it is the negative particle along with the following auxiliary that is moved to the utterance-final position, as exemplified in (9c). The same movement of the negative particle is applied when expressing the non-optionality in prohibitive utterances, as seen in (20b).

An adverb, *bīxi*, that can, although rarely, be used affirmatively as an intensifier of e.g., human-propensity adjectives, as in (48), with the approximate meaning ‘completely, very’, is used in order to emphasize the negative truth-value of a clause-level negation, as in (49), translatable as ‘not at all’.

- (48) Zə bīxi warxatā yəm.
1SG.NOM completely confused be.PRS.1SG
‘I’m completely confused.’
- (49) Xesta bīxi kəli ta wāpas nə rāz-i.
Khesta at.all village.OBL to back NEG come.IPFV.PRS-3
‘Khesta is not coming back to the village at all.’

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Negative disjunction in Pashto is expressed bisyndetically with a *na ... na* ‘neither ... nor’ construction, as exemplified with verbal predicates in (50), and with non-verbal in (51). The negator is in each case placed before the constituent or proposition that is being negated.

- (50) Pa roja ki saṛē na doḍəy xwar-i aw na obə tsk-i.
in fasting in man NEG food eat.PRS-3 and NEG water drink.PRS-3
‘During Ramazan, we neither eat food nor drink water.’
- (51) Haya na ɣal dē aw na də ɣal mal dē.
3SG.DIST.DR NEG thief be.PRS.3SG and NEG of thief friend be.PRS.3SG.M
‘He is neither a thief nor the friend of a thief.’

The coordinating conjunction *aw*, occurring before the second *na* in (50) and (51), can also be left out, as in (52).

- (52) Haya na uxyār dē na nəṛ.
3SG.DIST.DR NEG wise be.PRS.3SG.M NEG brave
‘He is neither wise nor brave.’

In another bisyndetic construction *na yawā ze ... balki ham* ‘not only ... but also’, it is only the first element that is expressed with a negative particle, as in (53).

- (53) Haya na yawāze yaw xə ustāz dē balki yaw
 3SG.DIST.DR NEG only one good.SG.M teacher be.PRS.3SG.M but one
 xə insān ham dē.
 good.SG.M human also be.PRS.SG.M
 ‘He is not only a good teacher but also a nice person.’

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

Pashto has a frequently used affirmation particle or interrogative tag *kana* ‘isn’t it?’, ‘don’t you?’, ‘won’t we?’ etc. (< *ka na* ‘or not’), as exemplified in (54) and (55)Q. Often the affirmative answer *ao* ‘yes’, is followed by the same particle, as in (55)A. Intonation further differentiates a request (whether actual or rhetoric) for affirmation and an affirmative answer, corresponding to the intonational difference between statements and questions in general in Pashto.

HC: this is for Sebastian/LSP: here we need links to subexamples within xlist (55Q and 55A)

- (54) Xob darz-i kana?
sleep come.to.you.IPFV.PRS-3 TAG
'You feel sleepy, don't you?'
- (55) Q: Kəli ta ba z-u kana?
village.OBL to FUT go.IPFV.PRS-1PL TAG
'We will go to the village, won't we?'
- A: Ao kana.
yes TAG
'Yes, of course.'

Pashto can in various ways express negative meanings as understatements, i.e., by means of clauses that are formally affirmative but include phrases indicating “impossibility” or “difficulty”, thus in principle negating the proposition. It may in some cases be a way of politely declining a request without literally – and bluntly – expressing it with a standard negator. In example (56), it is virtually out of question that the proposition would be realized.

- (56) Haȳio grān-a da če rāš-i.
 3PL.DIST.OBL difficult-F be.PRS.3SG.F COMP come.PFV.PRS-3
 ‘They might not come.’ / ‘They aren’t coming.’ (lit. ‘It is difficult for them to come’)

In yet other cases, it is the larger (cultural) context, along with intonation, that triggers a negative reading. In example (57), the extremely negative connotation of *xīrən* as ritually unclean and in every way objectionable, implicitly/contextually attributed to a particular person, effectively excludes an affirmative meaning.

- (57) Haya xīrən ba rāš-i.
 3SG.DIST.DR dirty FUT come.PFV.PRS-3
 ‘That scumbag is *not* coming here.’ (lit. ‘That dirty will come here.’)

5 Summary

Table 3 is a summary of the most important observations regarding negation in Pashto.

Table 3: Main properties of Pashto negation

Form	Formal characteristics	Function
<i>nə=</i>	Pre-verbal (finite) particle	Standard negation (SN)
<i>mə=</i>	Pre-verbal negative particle of imperatives	Prohibitive negation
<i>nište</i>	Replacing clause-final existential copula	Negative existential
<i>na</i>	Confirming/ non-confirming (yes-no system)	Negative reply
<i>hīts-...nə</i>	Typical prefixed element of indefinite pronoun or adverb; negative concord with clausal negation	Indefinite pronouns/adverbs
<i>na...na...</i>	Negative elements bisyndetically preceding negated constituents	Negative disjunction
	The default clausal scope narrowed down by prosodic stress	Scope of negation
	Right-dislocation of clausal negation	Reinforcement
<i>nā-, be-, lā</i>	Numerous, largely idiosyncratic, derivations by means of prefixes	Negative derivation
The asymmetries observed in the domain of negation are of the A/Cat/TAM type:		
a) Constructional asymmetry in periphrastic verbal categories;		
b) Paradigmatic asymmetry in prohibitives (perfective-imperfective neutralization)		

Standard negation is expressed with a single negative particle *nə*, typically added pre-verbally. When negating clauses in non-periphrastic verbal categories

there are no accompanying structural differences between affirmatives and negatives. All such clauses can be negated solely by adding *nə*, regardless of TAM or nominal grammatical categories. Periphrastically formed categories, however, show constructional asymmetry in applying the order VERB+AUX in affirmative clauses, while having the order NEG+AUX+VERB, in negative clauses. For imperatives, there is a dedicated negative particle *mə*, normally added pre-verbally, constituting the only formal contrast between imperatives and corresponding prohibitives. Pashto shows paradigmatic asymmetry in that positive imperatives can make an aspectual distinction between perfective and imperfective, whereas negative imperatives (normally) only occur in the imperfective. Most stative predications are negated by means of standard negation too. The inflected copula used in the affirmative is prefixed by *nə* in the corresponding negative predications. Existential, most possessive and a few locative predications, instead make use of a non-inflected existential copula, *šte*. In the corresponding negated predications, the existential copula is replaced with an existential negator, *nište*. No structural differences between negation in main clauses and negation in non-main clauses have been observed. Negative replies to polar questions can be given by using a one-word negative particle *na*. The use of it, as non-confirming and confirming answers to questions with positive and negative polarity, respectively, suggests that Pashto applies a yes-no answer system. Indefinite/interrogative pronouns and adverbs are typically negated by a preceding (or prefixed) *hits*. Clauses with such negated pronouns or adverbs always display negative concord. Negation in Pashto is normally reinforced by changes in the position of the negative element. In main clauses in the non-periphrastic categories, this is obtained by placing the negative particle, *nə* or *mə*, in utterance-final position. In periphrastically formed categories, reinforcement is instead exercised by the occurrence of NEG+AUX post-verbally vis-à-vis its typical pre-verbal position. Pashto clausal negation typically takes scope over the proposition as a whole, but can be narrowed down to a lower-level constituent by means of prosodic stress.

Pashto gives evidence of a few other specific negative constructions, including a bisyndetic negative disjunction, and a small number of negative - primarily adjectival - derivations are productively applied, all of which are prefixal.

Acknowledgements

This work is part of the project *Language contact and relatedness in the Hindukush region*, supported by Vetenskapsrådet, the Swedish Research Council, grant 421-2014-631.

Abbreviations

1	first person	IPFV	imperfective
2	second person	M	masculine
3	third person	N	noun
ADJ	adjective	NEG	negation
AUX	auxiliary	NEGEX	negative existential
CLT	clitical element	OBL	oblique case
COMP	complementizer	OPT	optative
DR	direct case	PFV	perfective
DIST	distal	PL	plural
EX	existential copula	POSS	possessive
F	feminine	PRS	present
FUT	future	PST	past
IMP	imperative	PTCP	participle
INF	infinitive	SG	singular
		TAG	tag question

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Negation in Modern Hebrew

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This chapter provides an overview of negation in Modern Hebrew, an Afroasiatic language of the Semitic branch. Standard negation is typically expressed by a construction where the negative particle *lo* precedes the finite verb. However, in formal registers, the negative copula *en*, historically derived from a negative existential particle, is employed instead of *lo* in the present tense. This negative copula can appear in two distinct standard negation constructions, with no difference in meaning: (i) in an inflected form (person, number, and gender) positioned before the finite verb; or (ii) in an uninflected form in clause-initial position. Beyond clausal negation, particular attention is paid to negative indefinites and polarity items.

Keywords: Hebrew, standard negation, negative copula, constituent negation, negative indefinites, polarity items.

1 The language

Modern Hebrew (ISO: [heb](#), Glottocode: [hebr1245](#)) belongs to the Semitic branch of the Afroasiatic family. It is spoken by over 5 million native speakers, and it is the official language of Israel ([Eberhard et al. 2023](#)). Pre-modern Hebrew ceased to be a spoken language at the end of the second century CE but continued to be used in liturgical, scholarly, legal, and literary writings by Jewish communities world-wide. It is commonly classified into several periods based on existing corpora: (i) Biblical Hebrew (the Hebrew Bible); (ii) Mishnaic Hebrew (the Mishna and parts of the Talmud); (iii) Medieval Hebrew (religious, philosophical, poetic, and scientific texts written during the period of Islamic rule in the Middle East, North Africa, and the Iberian Peninsula); (iv) Late Rabbinic Hebrew and Hasidic Hebrew (religious writings of Jewish communities in Europe); and (v) Maskilic Hebrew (secular writings which began to appear in Central and Eastern Europe during the Enlightenment, starting from the middle of the eighteenth century).

The language of the latter period, which was usually characterized by a linguistic mixture of different historical styles, had considerable influence on the development of Modern Hebrew. Another major influence was the Hebrew spoken by Jewish communities in Palestine in the late nineteenth century. Their native languages were usually Arabic, Judeo-Spanish, or Yiddish, but they used Hebrew as a *lingua franca* for inter-community communication. Jewish immigrants who came to Palestine from Europe at the end of the nineteenth century adopted Hebrew as their primary community language and became the first speakers of Modern Hebrew. Hebrew later became one of the official languages of Mandatory Palestine in 1922 and the state of Israel in 1948 (Doron 2015: 2–4).

Due to an extended history of bilingualism, Hebrew had long-standing contact with Yiddish (Indo-European), Slavic languages (Indo-European), and Arabic (Afroasiatic) (Doron 2015: 7). In recent decades, Hebrew's main contact languages are English (Indo-European) and Palestinian Arabic. Modern Hebrew shows almost no regional variation (Berman 1997: 313). However, it exhibits sociolinguistic variation in phonology, syntax, semantics, and the lexicon (Henshke 2013).

The basic word order is SVO, though VS is a possible alternative in certain contexts, especially in intransitive clauses. Hebrew is predominantly head-initial and dependent-marking. Like in other Semitic languages, all verbs and many nouns and adjectives are formed from a triconsonantal root and, sometimes, additional affixes (Berman 1997: 317). Adjectives and demonstratives agree in number and gender with the noun that they modify, and numerals agree in gender. Past and future tense verbs inflect for person, number, and gender. Present tense verbs inflect for number and gender but not person because this form is historically derived from the present participle and has retained its adjective-like morphology (Tzivoni 1993: 205).

Many aspects of negation in Modern Hebrew have been previously described in the literature. Tzivoni (1993) is a comprehensive description (written in Hebrew) of the system of negation, which is mostly based on written corpora. Shor (2020) studies the expression of negation in spontaneous conversation. In addition, chapters about negation can be found in grammars such as Glinert (1989: 293–307), Rosén (1977: 225–230), and Berman (1978: 145–146, 220–224)).

The linguistic examples in this paper represent both formal and informal registers.¹ They are drawn from several sources, which are indicated in the glosses: (i) previous literature, primarily Tzivoni (1993) and Glinert (1989); (ii) the Beʔofen

¹The examples are transcribed using the following phonetic notation: “c” stands for a voiceless alveolar affricate /tʃ/, “š” stands for a voiceless post-alveolar fricative /ʃ/, “y” stands for a palatal approximant /j/, “x” stands for a voiceless uvular fricative /χ/, and “r” stands for a voiced uvular approximant /ʁ/. The transcription represents standard General Israeli Hebrew.

Tivʔi Hebrew Textual Corpus, which is based on an internet forum dedicated to homeschooling and other alternative lifestyles; (iii) web examples (URLs are given in footnotes); and (iv) constructed examples. The structure of this chapter follows the structure of the questionnaire (Miestamo 2025).

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation is expressed by a construction in which the negative particle *lo* appears before the finite verb. This construction is symmetric with the corresponding affirmative (1), according to the criteria of Miestamo (2005). *lo* is considered a particle based on Dryer's (2013) criteria since it carries its own stress and does not inflect.

- (1) Hem (lo) makir-im ot-a.
 3PL.M (NEG) know.PRS-PL.M ACC-3SG.F
 'They (don't) know her.' [constructed]

In formal registers, present tense forms are not negated by *lo* but by the negative copula *en* (2). On the other hand, past and future tense verbs are negated by *lo*, as in the spoken language. The negative copula *en* typically inflects for person, number, and gender (Tzivoni 1993: 205), e.g., in (2a). However, *en* is not a verb for two reasons. First, it does not inflect for tense. Second, it inflects for person, whereas present tense verbs do not inflect for person (see §1). Syntactically, *en* belongs to a small class of particles, which also includes the presentatives *harey* and *hine*, the latter of which has also grammaticalized into the copula *hin-*, which is the affirmative counterpart of *en* in formal registers (see §2.3). These particles are unique in that they can either precede a clitic pronoun, as in (2a), or an independent pronoun, as in (2b), while other grammatical constructions may only occur with one type of pronoun or the other. The construction with inflecting *en* (2a) may be considered an instance of constructional asymmetric negation because *en* is followed by a clitic pronoun, which is absent in the corresponding affirmative. The construction with clause-initial, non-inflecting *en* (2b), by contrast, is symmetric.

- (2) a. Hem (en-am) makir-im ot-a.
 3PL.M (NEG-3PL.M) know.PRS-PL.M ACC-3SG.F
 'They (don't) know her.' [constructed]

- b. (En) hem makir-im ot-a.
 (NEG) 3PL.M know.PRS-PL.M ACC-3SG.F
 ‘They (don’t) know her.’ [constructed]

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Prohibitives are expressed by a construction in which the negative particle *al* precedes the future tense form (3a). The dedicated imperative form cannot occur in this construction. However, in most cases, prohibitives are symmetric with the corresponding affirmative because the imperative paradigm has been largely replaced by the future tense paradigm in the spoken language (Glinert 1989: 284–285). Note that several verbs have preserved the imperative form, most of which have a “weak” root, i.e., one of the consonants of the root is not pronounced in part of the verb conjugation (The Hebrew Academy 2017). In this case, then, negation is asymmetric (3b–3c). In indirect speech, the standard negation particle *lo* is used instead of *al* (3d).

- (3) a. (Al) ta-kšiv-Ø l-o!
 (PROH) 2.FUT-listen-SG.M DAT-3SG.M
 ‘(Don’t) listen to him!’ [constructed]
- b. Lex-Ø!
 go.IMP-SG.M
 ‘Go!’ [constructed]
- c. Al te-lex-Ø!
 PROH 2.FUT-go-SG.M
 ‘Don’t go!’ [constructed]
- d. Ta-gid-i l-a še-lo te-lex-Ø!
 2.FUT-tell-SG.F DAT-3SG.F COMP-NEG 3.F.FUT-go-SG
 ‘Tell her not to go!’ [constructed]

In formal registers, *al* may also occur in a jussive construction, in which it is either followed by a dative noun phrase or pronoun and a non-finite clause (4a) or a future tense verb (4b).

- (4) a. Al l-anu lehit?arev.
 NEG DAT-1PL get.involved.INF
 ‘We shouldn’t get involved.’ [Be?ofen Tiv?i]

- b. Al ni-štameš be-mil-im loʔazi-ot.
 NEG 1PL.FUT-use in-word-PL foreign-PL
 ‘Let us not use foreign words.’²

The particle *lo* can be used in another jussive construction with a finite clause introduced by the complementizer *še* (Bar-Adon 1966). This construction usually has a flavor of a warning (5a). It is symmetric with the affirmative, which is usually used as an optative in the second person (5b).

- (5) a. Še-lo ti-škax-Ø lavo maxar!
 COMP-NEG 2.FUT-forget-SG.M come.INF tomorrow
 ‘Don’t forget to come tomorrow!’ (Bar-Adon 1966: 410)
 b. Še-ta-mut-Ø!
 COMP-2.FUT-die-SG.M
 ‘Drop dead!’ (Bar-Adon 1966: 411)

Negative obligation is expressed by a construction in which the non-inflecting modal *asur* ‘forbidden’ precedes a non-finite clause (6a). This modal is also used to express a general prohibition (e.g., *It is forbidden to smoke here*), and in this context the standard negation particle *lo* and the formal negative particle *en* may be used as well (6b). Despite the fact that these three items appear to be interchangeable in (6b), they give rise to different types of speech acts: when *asur* and *en* are used, (6b) is an assertion, but when *lo* is used, (6b) is a directive. Evidence for this comes from the fact that only *lo* is compatible with *na* and *bevakaša* ‘please’ (6c). Note that the construction in which *en* is followed by a non-finite clause may express not only prohibition (6b) but also impossibility (6d).

- (6) a. Asur l-i ledaber it-xa.
 forbidden DAT-1SG talk.INF with-2SG.M
 ‘I’m not allowed to talk to you.’ [constructed]
 b. {Asur / Lo / En} lehaʔaxil et ha-xay-ot.
 forbidden/NEG/NEG feed.INF ACC DEF-animal-PL
 ‘Do not feed the animals!’ [constructed]
 c. Na lo lehaʔaxil et ha-xay-ot!
 please NEG feed.INF ACC DEF-animal-PL
 ‘Please do not feed the animals!’ [constructed]

²https://www.daat.ac.il/daat/ezechut/begin/48_5-2.htm (Accessed on 2022-08-22)

- d. En lada?at matay.
 NEG know.INF when
 ‘There is no knowing when.’ (Tzivoni 1993: 376)

2.3 Negation in stative predications

In existential and possessive predication, *lo* is in complementary distribution with the negative particle *en*. In the present tense, *en* is used (7a–7b), and in other tenses *lo* is used, followed by the copular verb *haya* ‘be’ (7c–7d) (Tzivoni 1993: 173). The construction with *lo* is symmetric with the corresponding affirmative, while *en* contrasts with the affirmative existential particle *yeš*. The use of a special negative existential which replaces the affirmative one reflects a widespread cross-linguistic tendency (Veselinova 2013).

- (7) a. {Yeš / En} oxel.
 EX/NEG.EX food
 ‘There is (no) food.’ [constructed]
 b. {Yeš / En} l-i oxel.
 EX/NEG.EX DAT-1SG food
 ‘I have (no) food.’ [constructed]
 c. (Lo) hay-a oxel.
 (NEG) be.PST-3SG.M food
 ‘There was (no) food.’ [constructed]
 d. (Lo) hay-a l-i oxel.
 (NEG) be.PST-3SG.M DAT-1SG food
 ‘I had (no) food.’ [constructed]

In the case of other non-verbal predicates such as equation (8a), proper inclusion (8b), attribution (8c), and locative predication (8d), *lo* is used in all tenses. However, in formal registers, the negative copula *en* is used instead of *lo* in the present tense (Tzivoni 1993: 201). There is a related use of *en* in locative predication where the location is not specified (8e). In such cases, the argument can be understood to be absent either temporarily or permanently (Tzivoni 1993: 181). Notice that the negative particle precedes the copular verb *haya* ‘be’ (8f) but follows non-verbal copulas such as those in (8a–b), which are derived from third-person independent pronouns. Finally, in formal registers, affirmative copular clauses may be formed with the inflecting copula *hin-* (8g), which is the affirmative counterpart of *en* (see §2.1). This copula cannot be negated.

- (8) a. Gila (hi) {lo / en-a} ima šel-i.
Gila COP.SG.F NEG/NEG-3SG.F mother POSS-1SG
'Gila is not my mother.' [constructed]
- b. Dani (hu) {lo / en-o} rofe.
Dani COP.SG.M NEG/NEG-3SG.M doctor
'Dani is not a doctor.' [constructed]
- c. Ha-bdixa {lo / en-a} macxik-a.
DEF-joke NEG/NEG-3SG.F funny-SG.F
'The joke isn't funny.' [constructed]
- d. Ha-patiš {lo / en-o} b-a-argaz.
DEF-hammer NEG/NEG-3SG.M in-DEF-box
'The hammer is not in the box.' [constructed]
- e. Ha-yeled en-enu.
DEF-child NEG-3SG.M
'The child is not present.' or: 'The child is gone [dead].' (Tzivoni 1993: 181)
- f. Ha-patiš lo hay-a b-a-argaz.
DEF-hammer NEG be.PST-3SG.M in-DEF-box
'The hammer was not in the box.' [constructed]
- g. Ha-neʔešam-im hin-am hor-e-ha šel ha-yalda.
DEF-defendant-PL COP-3PL.M parent-PL-2SG.F POSS DEF-girl
'The defendants are the girl's parents.' [Beʔofen Tivʔi]

Usually, *en* follows the subject and inflects for person, number and gender (9a), but it can also precede the subject, in which case it occurs in an uninflected form (9b) (Tzivoni 1993: 211).

- (9) a. Ha-hanhala en-a axraʔi-t le-ovdan xafac-im.
DEF-management NEG-3SG.F responsible-SG.F for-loss.of item-PL
'The management is not responsible for lost items.'³
- b. En ha-hanhala axraʔi-t le-ovdan xafac-im.
NEG DEF-management responsible-SG.F for-loss.of item-PL
'The management is not responsible for lost items.'⁴

³<https://www.kfar-saba.muni.il/?CategoryID=776> (Accessed on 2019-09-26)

⁴<https://www.rehovot.muni.il/238/> (Accessed on 2019-09-26)

The negative copula *en* cannot be used with predicates that do not have a subject argument (10a). When the subject position is filled by a non-deictic demonstrative *ze* ‘this’, *en* has to precede the subject (10b–10c) (Glinert 1989: 297).

- (10) a. {Lo / *En} kar l-i.
 NEG/NEG cold DAT-1SG
 ‘I’m not cold.’ [constructed]
 b. Ze {lo / *en-o} yaf-e.
 this NEG/NEG-3SG.M nice-SG.M
 ‘It’s not nice.’ [constructed]
 c. En ze yaf-e.
 NEG this nice-SG.M
 ‘It’s not nice.’ (Tzivoni 1993: 216)

Some copular constructions exhibit symmetric negation, while others exhibit asymmetric negation. In past and future tense, the negative particle *lo* precedes the finite copular verb *haya* ‘be’ (8f), which is also used in the affirmative. Hence, these constructions are symmetric. In the present tense, a copula is usually used in the affirmative in the case of equation (8a) and proper inclusion (8b) unless the subject is an independent pronoun. The constructions with *lo* are symmetric with the affirmative because the copula is used in the negative as well, but those with *en* are asymmetric because the copula is often omitted in the negative. Stative predicates expressing attribution (8c) and location (8d) usually do not occur with a copula in the affirmative, and hence the negative only differs from the affirmative by the presence of the negative particle or inflecting copula.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Negation in finite (11a) and non-finite (11b) dependent clauses is normally expressed by the standard negation particle *lo*. The formal negative copula *en* may only be used in the former case (11a). Privative prepositions such as *bli* ‘without’ may take a non-finite clause as an argument too (see §3.3.1).

- (11) a. Ze ma še-ani {lo / en-i} yoda?-at.
 this what COMP-1SG NEG/NEG-1SG know.PRS-SG.F
 ‘This is what I don’t know.’ [Be?ofen Tiv?i]
 b. Ani ma?adif-a lo lada?at.
 1SG prefer.PRS-3SG.F NEG know.INF
 ‘I prefer not to know.’ [Be?ofen Tiv?i]

However, Hebrew has several negative counterfactual conditional conjunctions, which express negation by themselves: *ilule*, *lule*, and *ilmale* (12). The latter two can also take a nominal complement, e.g., *ilmale ha-gešem* ‘if it weren’t for the rain’. Other types of negative conditionals (e.g., hypothetical) are expressed by the ordinary conditional conjunction *im* ‘if’ and the negative particle *lo* (Tzivoni 1993: 378–381).

- (12) Ilmale hay-ta l-a-šnaim haškafat olam dom-a, [...]
 if.not be.PST-3SG.F DAT-DEF-two view.of world similar-SG.F
 ‘If the two of them didn’t have a similar world view, [Barak wouldn’t be able to implement his novel approaches].’ (Tzivoni 1993: 381)

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

The phasal polarity adverb *terem* ‘not yet’ (also ‘before’), which is restricted to formal registers, is used in a clausal negation construction where it precedes the finite verb (13a). This adverb is interchangeable with *adain lo* ‘not yet’ (lit. ‘still not’), except for the fact that *terem* cannot be used with negative indefinites of the *af/šum*-series (13b) (see §3.2.2). The adverb *terem* can also be used as a negative reply to a polar question (14) (see §3.1 for a discussion of negative replies).

- (13) a. Terem nifgaš-nu.
 not.yet meet.PST-1PL
 ‘We haven’t met yet.’ [constructed]
 b. * Af exad terem higia-Ø.
 even one not.yet arrive.PST-3SG.M
 (‘Nobody has arrived yet.’) [constructed]
- (14) Q: Gamar-ta kvar et ha-avoda?
 finish.PST-2SG.M alreday ACC DEF-job
 ‘Have you finished the job yet?’
 A: Terem.
 not.yet
 ‘Not yet.’ (Tzivoni 1993: 335)

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Negative replies to polar questions are expressed by the negative particle *lo* (15), while affirmative replies are expressed by the affirmative particle *ken* ‘yes’. In the spoken language, a negative reply can also be expressed by a dental click, which can occur as a freestanding element or followed by *lo* (Shor 2020: 614–615). This interjection is probably borrowed from Arabic.

- (15) A: Dibar-ta it-o?
 talk.PST-2SG.M with-3SG.M
 ‘Did you talk to him?’
 B: Lo.
 NEG
 ‘No.’ [constructed]

Burstein (1999) collected and examined thousands of question-and-answer pairs from interviews that appeared in the Israeli press. She observes that negative replies to negative questions agree with the negative proposition in the question (16).

- (16) A: Moše lo omer-Ø l-ax še-at rak-a miday?
 Moše NEG say.PRS-SG.M DAT-2SG.F COMP-you soft-SG.F too
 ‘Does Moshe not say to you that you are too soft?’
 B: Lo.
 NEG
 ‘No [he doesn’t].’

Burstein (1999: 146) reports that she didn’t find any example in the corpus of a single word *ken* ‘yes’ reply to a negative question. On the other hand, standalone negative replies to negative questions are to be found, e.g., (16). Positive replies to negative questions are often used when the question has a positive bias (Burstein 1999: 387), as in (17).

- (17) Q: Lo mafxid-Ø? ibad-eta et ha-regel.
 NEG scary-SG.M lose.PST-2SG.M ACC DEF-leg
 ‘Isn’t it scary? You lost your leg.’

- A: Ken. Aval ata roʔe-Ø še-ata xay-Ø.
 yes but you see.PRS-SG.M COMP-you alive-SG.M
 ‘Yes [it is]. But you see that you’re alive.’ (Burstein 1999: 388)

When a question has a negative bias, a positive reply is interpreted as confirming this bias (18) unless the affirmative particle is preceded by an adverb like *davka* ‘actually’ (19), which is similar in meaning to German *doch*.

- (18) A: Lo koʔev-Ø, naxon?
 NEG hurt.PRS-SG.M right
 ‘It doesn’t hurt, right?’
 B1: Ken, bixlal lo.
 yes at.all NEG
 ‘Yes, not at all [constructed]’
 B2: #Ken, koev-Ø.
 yes hurt.PRS-SG.M
 #Yes, it hurts.’ [constructed]
- (19) A: Lo koʔev-Ø, naxon?
 NEG hurt.PRS-SG.M right
 ‘It doesn’t hurt, right?’
 B: Davka ken. Kcat.
 actually yes a.little
 ‘Actually, it does. A little.’⁵

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

3.2.1 Overview

The most common series of negative indefinites is the *af/šum*-series (see §3.2.2). In formal registers, the *iš*-series is an alternative, and it has a slightly broader distribution than the *af/šum*-series (see §3.2.3). Finally, the *-šehu*-series, which is primarily used in non-negative contexts, can also co-occur with negation when the indefinite pronoun is modified by a relative clause or other modifiers (see §3.2.4). Negative indefinite pronouns obligatorily co-occur with clausal negation, regardless of their position with respect to the verb (20a–20b). However, in rare cases, the negative marker is omitted for emphatic purposes (20c), possibly under the influence of English. For negated quantifier phrases, see (4.6.4).

⁵<http://stage.co.il/Stories/445839> (Accessed on 2019-09-19)

- (20) a. {Klum / Davar} lo kar-a.
 nothing/thing NEG happen.PST-3SG.M
 ‘Nothing happened.’ [constructed]
- b. Lo kar-a {klum / davar}.
 NEG happen.PST-3SG.M nothing/thing
 ‘Nothing happened.’ [constructed]
- c. Hirgaš-ti klum ve-šum davar.
 feel.PST-1SG nothing and-no thing
 ‘[In my last pregnancy I felt that I just loved my embryo, and this time when I first saw the embryo in an ultrasound scan,] I felt absolutely nothing.’ [Beʔofen Tivʔi]

3.2.2 The *af/šum*-series

The *af/šum*-series is restricted to negative sentences. The forms *af* ‘no’ (lit. ‘even’) and *šum* ‘no’ function as determiners, e.g., *af yeled* ‘no child’. The main difference between *af* and *šum* is that *af* can only combine with singular count nouns, while *šum* is also compatible with mass nouns and plurals, e.g., *šum tlunot* ‘no complaints’ (Tzivoni 1993: 112, 118). Both *af* and *šum* can combine with generic nouns to form indefinite pronouns such as *af exad* ‘nobody’ (lit. ‘even one’), *af paʔam* ‘never’ (lit. ‘even time’), *šum makom* ‘nowhere’ (lit. ‘no place’), *šum davar* ‘nothing’ (lit. ‘no thing’). This series also includes *klum* ‘nothing’ and the formal *meʔum(a)* ‘nothing’, which only have pronominal forms. This series is unrelated to the positive *-šehu*-series, which is derived from interrogative pronouns followed by parametric concessive conditional clause (Haspelmath 1997: 298).

The *af/šum*-series can co-occur with clausal negation (20), negative modals (21a) and the privative preposition *bli* ‘without’ (21b).

- (21) a. Asur lesaper et ze le-af exad.
 forbidden tell.INF ACC this DAT-even one
 ‘We mustn’t tell anyone about it.’ (Tzivoni 1993: 336)
- b. Bli šum haxana mukdem-et.
 without no preparation prior-SG.F
 ‘Without any prior preparation.’ [Beʔofen Tivʔi]

The *af/šum*-series cannot co-occur with implicitly negative predicates such as *sirev* ‘refuse’ (22), *besafeq* ‘doubt’ and *hikxiš* ‘deny’ (Glinert 1989: 306). Note that these predicates fall under the category of INDIRECT NEGATION in Haspelmath

(1997), just like *bli* ‘without’. The fact that the *af/šum*-series can co-occur with the latter but not the former suggests that the category of INDIRECT NEGATION should be split into at least two subcategories.

- (22) *Hu sirev-Ø laʔasot klum.
 3SG.M refuse.PST-3SG.M do.INF nothing
 (‘He refused to do anything.’) [constructed]

The *af/šum*-series can co-occur with superordinate negation when the matrix predicate is neg-raising (23a), and more rarely when it is non-neg-raising but also non-factive (23b) (see §4.6.1 for a discussion of neg-raising). However, the *-šehu*-series (see §3.2.4) is preferred in this context. If the matrix predicate is factive (23c) or a saying predicate (23d), only the *-šehu*-series can be used.

- (23) a. Ani lo xošev-et še-af exad beʔemet
 1SG NEG think.PRS-SG.F COMP-even one really
 hevin-Ø ma kor-e it-i.
 understand.PST-3SG.M what happen.PRS-SG.M with-1SG
 ‘I don’t think anyone really understood what was going on with me.’
 [Beʔofen Tivʔi]
- b. Ani lo batuax-Ø še-af exad b-a-xeder kan yodea-Ø
 1SG NEG sure-SG.M COMP-even one in-DEF-room here know.PRS-SG.M
 mi ze ha-koʔalicya ve-mi ze ha-opozicya.
 who COP DEF-coalition and-who COP DEF-opposition
 ‘I’m not sure anyone in this room knows who the coalition is and
 who the opposition is.’⁶
- c. Lo yada-ti še-mi-šehu moxer-Ø b-a-arec.
 NEG know.PST-1SG COMP-who-INDF sell.PRS-SG.M in-DEF-country
 ‘I didn’t know someone sells it in Israel.’ [Beʔofen Tivʔi]
- d. Makabi tel-aviv af paʔam lo taʔan-a še-mi-šehu
 Makabi Tel Aviv even time NEG claim.PST-3SG.F
 hitʔa ot-a.
 COMP-who-INDF mislead.PST-3SG.M ACC-3SG.F
 ‘Maccabi Tel Aviv (basketball club) has never claimed that someone
 misled it.’⁷

⁶https://www.nevo.co.il/law_html/law103/ksafim2005-02-25.htm (Accessed on 2019-09-26)

⁷<http://10tv.nana10.co.il/Article/?ArticleID=577708> (Accessed on 2019-09-26)

The *af/šum*-series can be used as a negative reply without the negative particle *lo* (24). Prescriptivists maintain that *lo* should also be used in this context (see Tzivoni 1993: 143 for references). For instance, the answer in (24) would be *lo xlum* (where /k/ is pronounced as [x] due to post-vocalic spirantization).

- (24) A: Ma amar-ta?
 what say.PST-2SG.M
 ‘What did you say?’
 B: Klum.
 nothing
 ‘Nothing.’ [constructed]

In very formal registers, *lo xlum* ‘nothing’ can also be used in full declarative clauses, but clausal negation is still obligatory (25).

- (25) En-a os-a ve-lo xlum kedey limnoa...
 NEG-3SG.F do.PRS-3SG.F and-NEG nothing in.order prevent.INF
 ‘[The government] doesn’t do anything to prevent...’ (Tzivoni 1993: 144)

3.2.3 The *iš*-series

The formal *iš*-series is almost entirely restricted to negative sentences, such as (26), but it also rarely occurs in questions and conditionals. This series consists of *iš* ‘anyone’ (lit. ‘person’) and *davar* ‘anything’ (lit. ‘thing’). The determiner *kol* ‘any’ can also be considered part of this series, but it can also function as a free-choice item (Haspelmath 1997: 298).⁸

- (26) David Levi meʔolam lo hivti-ax-Ø le-iš davar.
 David Levi never NEG promise.PST-3SG.M DAT-person thing
 ‘David Levi has never promised anything to anyone.’ (Tzivoni 1993: 111)

The *iš*-series has a slightly broader distribution than the *af/šum*-series. For instance, the *iš*-series can co-occur with implicitly negative predicates (27a) and with then negative phasal polarity adverb *terem* ‘not yet’ (27b) (compare with (22) and (13b), respectively).

⁸Note that *meʔolam* in (26) is not part of the *iš*-series since it can occur in superlatives (see §4.2.2).

- (27) a. Ax ha-yehudi sirev- $\emptyset$ lekabel davar.
 but DEF-Jew refuse.PST-3SG.M accept.INF thing
 ‘But the Jew refused to accept anything [as a reward].’⁹
- b. Ax terem neʔes-a davar.
 but not.yet do.PASS.PST-3SG.M thing
 ‘But nothing has been done yet.’¹⁰

The *iš*-series occurs very rarely in non-negative contexts such as questions and conditionals. It seems that questions with *iš*-series indefinites have a negative bias, as in (28a), but there aren’t enough examples to confirm this conjecture. It also seems that conditionals with *iš*-series indefinites have a flavor of a warning, as in (28b).

- (28) a. Axrey kol ha-mil-im [...] haʔim notar- $\emptyset$, davar haʔim notr-a
 after all DEF-word-PL Q left-SG.M thing Q left-SG.F
 I-a ahava?
 DAT-3SG.F love?
 ‘After all these words [...] is there anything left, is there any love left?’¹¹
- b. Ki im te-saper- $\emptyset$ le-iš al ha-mikre, te-kabel- $\emptyset$
 COMP if 2.F.FUT-tell-SG DAT-person about DEF-event 2.F.FUT-get-SG
 hetkef lev.
 attack heart
 ‘[The defendant told the plaintiff] that if she tells anyone about the incident, she will get a heart attack.’¹²

Indefinite pronouns of the *iš*-series cannot be used as freestanding negative replies (Tzivoni 1993: 135, 139), as demonstrated by (29). It is unclear if the reason for this is that speakers do not consider the *iš*-series as inherently negative or that this series is rarely used in spoken language, which is where one expects to find negative replies.

- (29) A: Ma asi-ta?
 what do.PST-2SG.M
 ‘What did you do?’

⁹<http://www.chabad.org.il/Magazines/Article.asp?ArticleID=13712&CategoryID=2215> (Accessed on 2019-09-29)

¹⁰<https://www.israelhayom.co.il/article/678211> (Accessed on 2019-09-26)

¹¹<https://simania.co.il/showReview.php?reviewId=49727> (Accessed on 2019-09-29)

¹²<https://www.news1.co.il/Archive/001-D-270469-00.html> (Accessed on 2019-09-29)

- B: * Davar!
 thing
 ‘Nothing!’

3.2.4 The *-šehu*-series

According to Haspelmath (1997: 135–136), the *-šehu*-series is derived from a concessive conditional clause, headed by an interrogative pronoun. For instance, *mišehu* ‘someone’ consists of *mi* ‘who’, *še* ‘that’, and the third person singular masculine pronoun *hu* literally meaning ‘who that it (is)’ or ‘whoever it may be’. The *-šehu*-series is primarily used in non-negative contexts (Haspelmath 1997: 298–299). However, a *-šehu* indefinite can occur in the same clause with negation when it is modified by a relative clause (30), an adjective, or a prepositional phrase.

- (30) Ani lo makir-Ø mi-šehu še-xolek-Ø al ze.
 1SG NEG know-SG.M who-INDF.SG.M COMP-dispute-SG.M on this
 ‘I don’t know anyone who disputes that.’ [Beʔofen Tivʔi]

However, unlike the *af/šum*-series and the *iš*-series, indefinite pronouns of the *-šehu*-series have to follow negation in order to be interpreted in its scope. For instance, in (31) *mišehu* ‘someone’ precedes negation and can only be interpreted outside its scope.

- (31) Mi-šehu še-ani makir-a lo sagar-Ø et ha-delet.
 who-INDF that-1SG know-SG.F NEG close.PST-3SG.M ACC DEF-door
 ‘Someone I know didn’t close the door.’ [constructed]

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

3.3.1 Privative markers

Privative prepositions include *bli* ‘without’, sometimes preceded by another preposition, and the negative particle *lo*, which is always preceded by another preposition, e.g., *le-lo* and *be-lo* (Tzivoni 1993: 68). Bare *bli* can either take a noun phrase (32a) or a non-finite clause (32b). When *bli* is preceded by another preposition, it can only take a clausal complement (32c) (see §2.4 for a discussion of negation in non-main clauses).

- (32) a. bli simxa
 without happiness
 ‘without happiness’

- b. bli laševet
without sit.INF
'without sitting'
- c. mi-bli laševet
ABL-without sit.INF
'without sitting' (Tzivoni 1993: 68)

The negative particle *lo* most often combines with the dative/allative preposition *le-*. It can take either a noun phrase (33a) or a non-finite clause (33b). When *lo* combines with *be-* 'in', only a noun phrase complement is possible.

- (33) a. le-lo simxa
DAT-NEG happiness
'without happiness'
- b. le-lo nua
DAT-NEG move.INF
'without moving' (Tzivoni 1993: 68)

Neither *bli* nor *lelo* can take personal pronouns as complements. Instead, the preposition *bilʔadey* 'without' is used (34). This is the sole function of *bilʔadey* in the spoken language, but in formal registers it can also take a definite noun phrase as a complement (Tzivoni 1993: 74).

- (34) Bilʔadey-ha lo i-hiy-e sipur.
without-3SG.F NEG 3.M.FUT-be-SG story
'Without her, there will be no story.' (Tzivoni 1993: 74)

Hebrew has another set of privative markers, which are derived from participial forms. These markers can only modify noun phrases: *xasar* (e.g., *xasar buša* 'shameless'), *neʔedar* (e.g., *neʔedar haskala* 'uneducated'), and *netul* (e.g., *netul kafeʔin* 'caffeine free'). The former two forms have nominal equivalents, e.g., *xoser buša* 'shamelessness' and *heʔeder haskala* 'lack of education' (Tzivoni 1993: 55–66, 77–81).

3.3.2 Opposition and antonymy

Markers of opposition and antonymy include *bilti*, *lo*, *i-*, and *al*. *bilti* modifies adjectives, e.g., *bilti racuy* 'undesirable'. *bilti* usually cannot modify adjectives that have lexical antonyms. For instance, **bilti tov* ('ungood') is arguably blocked

by *ra* ‘bad’. On the other hand, *lo* is not subject to such a restriction, e.g., *lo tov* ‘not good’. Another restriction is that *bilti* cannot modify adjectives such as color terms, which do not have antonyms, e.g., **bilti lavan* ‘unwhite’ (Tzivoni 1993: 31).

Since *lo* is also used in stative predication (see §2.3), there is often a structural ambiguity in the present tense between clausal negation and negative derivation (35). On the other hand, structural ambiguity does not arise in other tenses due to the presence of the verbal copula (36a–36b).

- (35) Clausal negation / negative derivation
Ze lo menumas.
this NEG polite
‘It’s not polite.’ or: ‘It’s impolite.’ [constructed]
- (36) a. Clausal negation
Ze lo hay-a menumas.
this NEG be.PST-3SG.M polite
‘It wasn’t polite.’ [constructed]
- b. Negative derivation
Ze hay-a lo menumas.
this be.PST-3SG.M NEG polite
‘It was impolite.’ [constructed]

The prefix *i-* modifies abstract nouns, e.g., *i-racon* ‘unwillingness’, including action nominals, e.g., *i-havana* ‘misunderstanding’ (Tzivoni 1993: 43–44). The prefix *al-* modifies adjectives, e.g., *al-xuti* ‘wireless’, and nouns, e.g., *al-mavet* ‘immortality’ (Tzivoni 1993: 25–26). This prefix is no longer productive.

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Contrastive negation is expressed by employing prosodic stress on the focused constituent (37a) or by placing the negative particle *lo* immediately before that constituent (37b) (Shor 2020: 599).

- (37) a. Ve-gam lo xani-ta ro, xani-ta lemala.
and-also NEG park.PST-2SG.M here park.PST-2SG.M up
‘And you didn’t park here either, you parked up [the street].’ (Shor 2020: 599)

- b. Yoce sof-šavua lo ha-karov, ha-ba.
 come.out.SG.M end-week NEG DEF-upcoming DEF-next
 ‘It will be not the upcoming weekend, but the next.’ (Shor 2020: 599)

A focused element may also be preposed together with the negative particle (38a). In fact, preposing is obligatory when the negative particle is not in its normal pre-verbal position unless the clause is followed by a corrective *but* clause. For instance, in (38b) the first clause is odd without the presence of the second clause. Note that the conjunction that is used in corrective clauses is *ela* ‘but’ rather than the ordinary adversative conjunction *aval* ‘but’.

- (38) a. Lo IT-I dibar-ta.
 NEG with-1SG talk.PST-2SG.M
 ‘It wasn’t me you talked to.’ [constructed]
 b. Dibar-ta lo IT-I, ela im ax šel-i.
 talk.PST-2SG.M NEG with-1SG but with brother POSS-1SG
 ‘You didn’t talk to ME, you talked to my BROTHER.’ [constructed]

4.2 Polarity items

4.2.1 Overview

Negative Polarity Items (NPIs) are items that can co-occur with negation but cannot occur in a positive declarative episodic sentence, i.e., a sentence that relates a specific event. Hebrew NPIs include:

- phasal polarity adverbs, e.g., *yoter* ‘anymore’
- maximizers, e.g., *meʔolam* ‘ever (in the past)’ (lit. ‘from eternity’), *baxaim* ‘ever’ (lit. ‘in life’)
- minimizers, e.g., *nakaf echa* ‘lift a finger’, *acam ain* ‘sleep a wink’
- vulgar idioms, e.g., *lo meziz li* ‘I don’t give a damn’ (lit. ‘it doesn’t move [the tip of my belly button/finger/etc.]’)
- idiomatic expressions, e.g., *lo bixdi* ‘not for naught’

Positive Polarity Items (PPIs) are items that can occur in a positive declarative episodic sentence but cannot co-occur with negation in the same clause and be interpreted in its scope. Hebrew PPIs include:

- phasal polarity adverbs, e.g., *kvar* ‘already’, *adain* ‘still’
- minimizers, e.g., *kcat* ‘a little’, *tipa* ‘a little bit’ (lit. ‘a drop’)
- approximators, e.g., *dey* ‘rather’, *be?erex* ‘approximately’

The rest of this section focuses on those items that appear to be of typological interest.

4.2.2 *me?olam* and *le?olam* ‘ever’

Hebrew has two adverbs that are built on the word *olam* ‘eternity’: *me?olam* ‘ever (in the past)’ and *le?olam* ‘ever (in the present or future)’. Their literal meaning is ‘from eternity’ and ‘to eternity’, respectively. In the spoken language, both of these items are NPIs.

The adverb *me?olam* has a broader distribution than *le?olam*. For example, the former, but not the latter, can occur in superlatives (39), questions and conditionals.

- (39) a. Ha-maim haxi mera?anen-im še-ta?am-ti me?olam.
 DEF-water most refreshing-PL that-taste.PST-1SG ever
 ‘The most refreshing water I have ever tasted.’ [Be?ofen Tiv?i]
- b. *Ze ha-seret haxi tov še-ti-r?-e le?olam!
 it DEF-movie most good that-2.FUT-see-SG.M ever
 (‘It’s the best movie you’ll ever see!’) [constructed]

However, in formal registers *le?olam* can also be used in affirmative sentences, where it means ‘forever’ (40). *me?olam* is used in such contexts mostly in the idiom *me?az u-me?olam* ‘since time immemorial’.

- (40) Le?olam e-zkor l-ahen xesed ziknat-an.
 forever 1SG.FUT-remember DAT-3PL.F devotion old.age-3PL.F
 ‘I will always remember the devotion of their old age.’ [Be?ofen Tiv?i]

4.2.3 *tipa* ‘a little bit’

Minimizers are idiomatic expressions of minimal amount, e.g., *lift a finger*, *sleep a wink*, *say a word* (Giannakidou 2011: 1662). Minimizers are usually associated with NPIs, but in Modern Hebrew some of them are PPIs. *tipa* ‘a little bit’ (lit. ‘a drop’) is particularly interesting because in one construction it behaves like a

PPI, and in another like an NPI. As an adverb, *tipa* is a PPI (41a–41b). However, note that *tipa* can co-occur with negation when it is in the focus of the scalar additive particle *afilu* ‘even’ (41c).

- (41) a. Ani tipa meʔuxzav-Ø.
1SG drop disappointed-SG.M
‘I’m a little bit disappointed.’ [Beʔofen Tivʔi]
b. * Ani lo tipa meʔuxzav-Ø.
1SG NEG drop disappointed-SG.M
‘(I’m not one bit disappointed.)’ [constructed]
c. Ani afilu lo tipa mešuʔašaʔ-at.
1SG even NEG drop amused-SG.F
‘I’m not even one bit amused.’¹³

On the other hand, when *tipa* functions as a noun in a pseudo-partitive construction (i.e., ‘a drop of’), it is an NPI (42).

- (42) a. En l-i tipat pratiyut.
NEG.EX DAT-1SG drop.of privacy.
‘I don’t have any privacy whatsoever.’ [Beʔofen Tivʔi]
b. * Yeš l-i tipat pratiyut.
EX DAT-1SG drop.of privacy.
‘(I have a little privacy.)’ [constructed]

4.2.4 *ey paʔam* ‘ever’ and *paʔam* ‘some time, once’

The adverbs *ey paʔam* ‘ever’ (lit. ‘which time’) and *paʔam* ‘some time, once’ (lit. ‘time’) are interchangeable in most contexts, e.g., questions (43a), but *ey paʔam* ‘ever’ is an NPI, and *paʔam* ‘some time, once’ is a PPI. In positive episodic sentences, only *paʔam* can be used (43b). In comparatives and superlatives, only *ey paʔam* can be used (43c). Interestingly, *ey paʔam* cannot occur in the same clause with negation (43d) (Tzivoni 1993: 155, Francez & Goldring 2012: 366). In this context, *af paʔam* ‘never’ (see §3.2.2) or *baxaim* ‘ever’ are used instead.

- (43) a. Nahag-ta (ey) paʔam l-a-avoda?
drive.PST-2SG.M which time to-DEF-work
‘Have you ever driven to work?’ (Francez & Goldring 2012: 366)

¹³<http://www.themarket.com/misc/smartphonexmlfeed/1.2655748> (Accessed on 2019-09-29)

- b. Pagaš-ti ot-o paʔam b-a-kanyon.
meet.PST-1SG ACC-3SG which time in-DEF-mall
'I've met him once at the mall.'¹⁴
- c. Zot ha-memšala haxi grua ey paʔam.
this.SG.F DEF-government most bad.SG.F which time
'This is the worst government ever.' (Francez & Goldring 2012: 366)
- d. ? Ani lo nahag-ti (ey) paʔam l-a-avoda.
I NEG drive.PST-1SG which time to-DEF-work
'(I haven't ever driven to work.)' (Francez & Goldring 2012: 366)

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Marking of NPs is not affected by negation.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Negation can be reinforced by intensifiers such as *bixlal* 'at all' (44a) and minimizers (44b).

- (44) a. Ani bixlal lo maskim-a.
1SG at.all NEG agree.PRS-SG.F
'I don't agree at all.' [Beʔofen Tivʔi]
- b. Lo amar-ti mila.
NEG say.PST-1SG word
'I didn't say a word.' [Beʔofen Tivʔi]

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Coordination of a positive and a negative clause may involve verb phrase ellipsis (45). This type of ellipsis is also available in coordination of two positive clauses.

- (45) Anaxnu yodʔ-im ve-atem lo [yodʔ-im].
1PL know.PRS-PL.M and-you.PL NEG know.PRS-PL.M
'We know and you don't [know].' [Beʔofen Tivʔi]

Hebrew does not have negative coordinators. However, there is a construction in which the negative particle *lo* precedes each of the conjuncts (46a). This construction is more emphatic than its unmarked counterpart (46b).

¹⁴<https://www.ynet.co.il/Ext/App/TalkBack/CdaViewOpenTalkBack/0,11382,L-4944298-2,00.html> (Accessed on 2019-09-29)

- (46) a. Lo hay-a l-i ixpat lo me-ha-yehudi-m ve-lo
 NEG be.PST-3SG.M DAT-1SG care NEG from-DEF-Jew-PL and-NEG
 me-ha-aravi-m.
 from-DEF-Arab-PL
 ‘I cared neither about the Jews nor about the Arabs.’ (Tzivoni 1993: 353)
- b. Lo hay-a l-i ixpat me-ha-yehudi-m o
 NEG be.PST-3SG.M DAT-1SG care from-DEF-Jew-PL or
 me-ha-aravi-m.
 from-DEF-Arab-PL
 ‘I didn’t care about the Jews or the Arabs.’ [constructed]

When the verb precedes the conjuncts, e.g., (46a), clausal negation is obligatory. However, when the verb follows the conjuncts (47), clausal negation is optional (Tzivoni 1993: 354).

- (47) Lo ha-doktor ve-lo ha-profesor (lo) dibr-u al
 NEG DEF-doctor and-NEG DEF-professor NEG talk.PST-3PL about
 šituf našim b-a-šilton.
 participation.of women in-DEF-administration
 ‘Neither the doctor nor the professor [...] talked about letting women
 take part in the administration.’ (Tzivoni 1993: 354)

4.6 Other aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

Negative transport is a phenomenon where negation of a higher clause is interpreted as negating a subordinate clause. Neg-raising predicates are listed below based on the classification in Horn (1978).

- **Opinion:** *xošev* ‘think’, *maʔamin* ‘believe’, *savur* ‘of the opinion that’, *mešaʔer* ‘suppose’, *meniax* ‘assume’, *metaʔer leʔacmi* ‘I imagine’, *nirʔe li* ‘it seems to me’ (Tzivoni 1993: 275), *nidme li* ‘it seems to me’, and *cofe* ‘predict’.
- **Perception:** *nirʔe* ‘look like’, *nišma* ‘sound like’, and *margiš* ‘feel like’.
- **Probability:** *savir* ‘likely’.

- **Intention/volition:** *roce* ‘want’ (Tzivoni 1993: 280), *xošev* ‘think of’ (Tzivoni 1993: 273), *ba li* ‘I want’, *meʔunyan* ‘interested in’, *mitkaven* ‘intend’, and *metaxnen* ‘plan’.
- **Judgment/obligation:** *amur* ‘supposed’, *carix* ‘need’, and *mamlic* ‘recommend’.

Some of the aforementioned categories also include non-neg-raising predicates:

- **Opinion:** *menaxeš* ‘guess’, *mešuxna* ‘convinced’, and *batuax* ‘sure’.
- **Intention/volition:** *mekave* ‘hope’ and *maʔadif* ‘prefer’.
- **Judgment/obligation:** *xayav* ‘must’.

The difference between a neg-raising predicate and a non-neg-raiser is exemplified in (48) in the domain of necessity modals. Example (48a) contains the neg-raising *carix* ‘need’, and its salient reading is one where the modal takes wide scope over negation: it is necessary that children not be exposed to such horrors. By contrast, *xayav* ‘must’ in (48b) is not a neg-raiser, and negation takes wide scope over the modal: it is not necessary that children be exposed to such horrors. Also see §3.2 for a discussion of the relevance of neg-raising to licensing of negative indefinites.

- (48) a. Yelad-im lo crix-im lehexasef le-zvaʔ-ot kaʔele.
 child-PL NEG need-PL.M be.exposed.INF DAT-horror-PL.F such
 ‘Children shouldn’t be exposed to such horrors.’¹⁵
- b. Yelad-im lo xayav-im lehexasef le-zvaʔ-ot kaʔele.
 child-PL NEG must-PL.M be.exposed.INF DAT-horror-PL.F such
 ‘Children don’t have to be exposed to such horrors.’ [constructed]

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation is a use of negation where what is negated is not the assertive content of the proposition but the way it is expressed (Horn 1989: 363). Metalinguistic negation looks like ordinary negation in Hebrew.

- (49) Ze lo tov, ze meʔule.
 this NEG good this great
 ‘It’s not good, it’s great.’ [constructed]

¹⁵<https://www.haaretz.co.il/gallery/television/tv-review/1.1866196> (Accessed on 2020-07-03)

4.6.3 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

Expletive negation—i.e., a non-negative use of a negative marker—is found in several contexts, and it is always optional. First, expletive negation is often used in free relative clauses (50). In this context, expletive negation gives rise to an interpretation which is similar to English *-ever*, i.e., speaker indifference or ignorance (Eilam 2007: 41).

- (50) Ma še-dani lo katav-Ø, hitparsem-Ø
 what that-Dani NEG write.PST-3SG.M publish.PASS.PST-3SG.M
 b-a-iton.
 in-DEF-newspaper
 ‘Whatever Danny wrote was published in the newspaper.’ (Eilam 2007: 41)

A related use of expletive negation is in exclamative rhetorical questions (Rubinstein et al. 2015: 167).

- (51) Be-ma lo heʔešim-u ot-o!
 in-what NEG blame.PST-3PL ACC-3SG.M
 ‘The things he’s been blamed for!’ (lit. ‘What hasn’t he been blamed for?!’) (Rubinstein et al. 2015: 167)

Second, expletive negation is used in clausal complements of *ad* ‘until’ (52), *bli* ‘without’ and, less often, *lifney* ‘before’ (Rubinstein et al. 2015: 168).

- (52) Ad še-lo ya-gia milyarder rusi, nyukasel
 until that-NEG 3.FUT-arrive-SG.M billionaire Russian Newcastle
 ti-tkaše-Ø.
 3.F.FUT-have.trouble.SG
 ‘Newcastle will be in trouble until a Russian billionaire comes along.’
 (Rubinstein et al. 2015: 168)

Expletive negation is not used in complements of emotive predicates such as ‘fear’ and ‘doubt’. However, it is used in complements of negated ‘surprise’ predicates (Rubinstein et al. 2015: 169).

- (53) Ani lo e-tpale im hu lo yazam-Ø et kol
 1SG NEG 1SG.FUT-be.surprised if 3SG.M NEG initiate.PST-3SG.M ACC all
 ha-takrit ha-mexoʔer-et ha-zo.
 DEF-incident DEF-ugly-SG.F DEF-this
 ‘I wouldn’t be surprised if he is the one behind this ugly incident.’
 (Rubinstein et al. 2015: 169)

4.6.4 Negated quantifier phrase constructions

Modern Hebrew has two types of negated quantifier phrase constructions: (i) *lo kol* ‘not all (NP)’ and *lo harbe* ‘not many (NP)’; (ii) *lo meʔat* ‘quite a few’. The difference between the two types is that the former may only occur pre-verbally (54a–54b), whereas the latter may also occur post-verbally (55a–55b). Another difference is related to their interaction with prepositions. In the case of *lo kol*, the negative particle *lo* has to precede the entire prepositional phrase (54c). On the other hand, a preposition takes *lo meʔat* in its entirety as its complement (55c).

- (54) a. *Lo kol ha-student-im ba-u.*
 NEG all DEF-student-PL come.PST-3PL
 ‘Not all of the students came.’ [constructed]
- b. **Ba-u lo kol ha-student-im.*
 come.PST-3PL NEG all DEF-student-PL
 (‘Not all of the students came.’) [constructed]
- c. *Lo le-kol ha-student-im yeš mexonit.*
 NEG DAT-all DEF-student-PL EX car
 ‘Not all of the students have a car.’ [constructed]
- (55) a. *Lo meʔat student-im ba-u.*
 NEG few student-PL come.PST-3PL
 ‘Quite a few students came.’ [constructed]
- b. *Ba-u lo meʔat student-im.*
 come.PST-3PL NEG few student-PL
 ‘Quite a few students came.’ [constructed]
- c. *Le-lo meʔat student-im yeš mexonit.*
 DAT-NEG few student-PL EX car
 ‘Quite a few students have a car.’ [constructed]

4.6.5 Diachronic notes and observations

The expansion of the functions of the negative existential *en* into the verbal domain is an instance of the Negative Existential Cycle (Croft 1991; Veselinova 2014, 2016). Hebrew exhibits an overlap of two types in the cycle: A~B and B~C. On the one hand, it belongs to type A~B because *en* is used in existential negation only in the present tense, whereas the standard negator *lo* is used in other tenses

(see §2.3). On the other hand, it belongs to type B~C because *en* may be used to negate present tense verbs, which are historically derived from the present participle (see §2.1). This overlap dates back to Biblical Hebrew (Naudé et al. 2019, Naudé et al. 2022).

5 Summary

In clausal negation, the choice of negative particle depends on three criteria, namely, sentence type (declarative or imperative), type of predication, and tense. The main negation strategies in Hebrew are summarized in Table 1.

Table 1: Summary of negation strategies in Hebrew

Negative marker	Function	Section
<i>lo</i> (negative particle)	verbal predication	§2.1
	nominal, adjectival, and locative predication	§2.3
	existential and possessive predication, except in the present tense	§2.3
	negative reply	§3.1
	constituent negation	§4.1, §4.6.2
	impersonal prohibition	§2.2
<i>en</i> (negative copula)	existential and possessive predication in the present tense	§2.3
	verbal predication in the present tense, formal register	§2.1
	nominal, adjectival, and locative predication in the present tense, formal register	§2.3
	impersonal prohibition, formal register	§2.2
<i>al</i> (negative particle)	prohibitives	§2.2
	jussive construction	§2.2
<i>terem</i> (adverb)	phasal polarity adverb ‘not yet’	§2.5

The constructions with *lo* and *terem* are symmetric with the affirmative. On the other hand, existential and possessive constructions with *en* are asymmetric with the affirmative because *en* is in contrastive distribution with the affirmative existential particle *yeš*. Copular constructions with *en* typically exhibit a constructional asymmetry because *en* is followed by a clitic pronoun, which is absent in the affirmative. However, *en* may also occur clause-initially rather than

after the subject, in which case it does not co-occur with a clitic pronoun, and hence there is no asymmetry. Finally, prohibitives exhibit a paradigmatic asymmetry in those cases where a verb has retained the dedicated imperative form, which is restricted to the affirmative (see §2.2).

In addition to the above-mentioned negative markers, Modern Hebrew has several negative indefinites (see §3.2), a wide variety of negative derivations (see §3.3), and several negative counterfactual conditional conjunctions (see §2.4).

Abbreviations

1	first person	INDF	indefinite
2	second person	INF	infinitive
3	third person	M	masculine
ABL	ablative	NEG	negation
ACC	accusative	PASS	passive
COMP	complementizer	PL	plural
COP	copula	PN	proper name
DAT	dative	POSS	possessive
DEF	definite	PROH	prohibitive
EX	existential	PRS	present
F	feminine	PST	past
FUT	future	Q	question particle
IMP	imperative	SG	singular

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Negation in Veps

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This chapter presents an overview of different negation strategies and diachronic changes in Veps, an endangered northwestern Uralic language belonging to the Finnic branch. Basic negation patterns in Veps share many characteristics with other northern Finnic languages. However, Veps displays a negation system with many innovations and manifests several language-specific morphosyntactic patterns, a lot of syntactic variation, and secondary lexicalization in negative phrases. Several specifically Veps features and syntactic changes, such as number agreement between the negative auxiliary and the verb in plural, alternating word order, and negative existentials increase the divergence of Veps negation in comparison with neighboring and related languages. Language contacts play a significant role as well, as lexical negation and indefinites involve a strong Russian influence, whereas in clausal negation it is not as significant.

Keywords: Veps, Finnic, negation, language contact, Russian, scope of negation.

1 Introduction

Veps (ISO: **vep**, Glottocode: **veps1250**) is the eastern-most Finnic language spoken in Northwestern Russia in the Republic of Karelia, Leningrad oblast and Vologda oblast. The historical core area is located between the lakes Ladoga, Onega, Beloe Ozero and along the shores of river Oyat'. Veps is more heavily influenced by Russian than other Finnic languages and long-term bilingualism involves both intensive lexical and grammatical borrowing. The population size has constantly decreased since 1930's, which is caused by the lack of sustainable development, insufficient political rights and an unfavorable position of minority languages in the Soviet Union and Russia. The estimated current number of speakers is less than 2500¹ consisting mainly of elder generations with a rural background

¹The last population census of Russia was carried out in 2021. The data were published at the end of 2022. The official statistics show a decrease in the number of ethnic Veps from over 5900

(Grünthal 2011; Puura et al. 2013: 23–32; Strogal'sčikova 1989, 2006). In the beginning of 1990's a new Veps standardized language was introduced. It is regularly used in a monthly newspaper and more randomly in media and other printed publications.

A number of linguistic works describing the Veps language and the history of the Veps people have been published since the 19th century, the first linguistic descriptions dating back to 1840's and 1850's (Branch 1973: 83–92; Grünthal 2015: 18–24; Karjalainen 2016; Korhonen 1986: 43–45, 76–80; Puura 2019; Puura et al. 2013: 2–8; Strogal'sčikova 2008; Zaitseva 1981, 2001). The dialects are divided into Northern, Central and Southern Veps, which are mutually easily intelligible, the southern dialect having more distinctive features than the two other ones.

Typologically, the Veps language displays abundant suffixal morphology and has clearly distinct nominal and verbal paradigms. It has 17–18 inflectional cases and distinguishes between two conjugation types as it displays reflexive conjugation that diverges from the basic paradigm (Grünthal 2015, 2017: 133–135; Kettunen 1943a: 421–434; Zaitseva 1981, 2001). It manifests much less morphophonological alternation than other Finnic and Saamic languages and lacks consonant gradation typical of these two Uralic branches. Language contact with Russian has evoked changes in word order which shows variation between the Finnic default pattern SVO and inherited Uralic SOV, which is secondary in Veps and used for pragmatic purposes. Word order variation is a language-specific characteristic of Veps negation in declarative clauses (see, Sections §2.1.1 and §2.1.2).

The considerably high amount of variation and divergence in Veps negation shows that negative phrases are liable to morphosyntactic changes. Like other northern Finnic languages, Veps does not distinguish between present and past tense negative auxiliary, which is characteristic of more eastern Uralic languages, such as Mordvin and Mari (Hamari & Aasmäe 2015; Saarinen 2015) and has been preserved as a recessive archaic feature in South Estonian, Insular dialects of Estonian, and Livonian. Language-specific changes have secondarily increased the means of negation in Veps, which displays strongly divergent features in plural negation and the fusional negative existential. (For negation in other Finnic languages, cf. Lindström et al. 2021; Metslang et al. 2015; Rozhanski & Markus 2017; Vilkkuna 2015, 2022.)

In this paper, data illustrating Veps negation are drawn from published text collections (Kettunen 1920, 1925, Kettunen & Siro 1935, Kettunen 1943b) representing spoken language from the first half of the 20th century, and the author's

in 2010 to over 4300 in 2021 (Prozes 2023). The number of Veps speakers is critically assessed in literature (Grünthal 2011; Puura et al. 2013: 23–32; Strogal'sčikova 1989, 2006), which shows that it is considerably smaller than the number of ethnicity.

fieldtrips between 2005–2014.² Examples from vernacular speech are presented in a phonologically standardized form lacking diacritics.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

2.1.1 Basic declarative sentence

Verb conjugation distinguishes between present, simple past and, most notably, the standardized language (Zaitseva 2000, 2001: 107–120), two compound past tenses. In colloquial speech and dialects, however, the system often operates with a simplified contrast between two tenses, namely present and simple past (Grünthal 2015: 120–149; Kettunen 1943a: 62–63, 76–77). The same negative auxiliary is used both in present and past tense inflecting for person as in most other Finnic languages. In present tense, the main verb displays an unmarked connegative form (1–2), whereas past tense is indicated with the past tense participle (3). The copula *lii-da* be.FUT-INF ‘be (fut.)’ is the only verb that indicates future, whereas the declarative negative clause is identical with present tense (4). The default word order is NEG + verb.

- (1) Mams se sanu-i: **e-n** **rohti** libu-da.
mother it say-PST.3SG NEG-1SG dare.CNG arise-INF
‘The mother said: I daren’t arise.’ (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 32)
- (2) **E-taa** **mahta** išt-taaze.
NEG-2PL can.CNG sit-INF.REFL
‘You can’t sit down.’ (VeS, Kettunen 1920: 116)
- (3) Kana-š-t, sanu-b, **e-d** **to-nd**.
chicken-DIM-PAR say-3SG NEG-2SG bring-PST.PTCP
‘You didn’t bring a chicken, (s)he says.’ (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 92)
- (4) Ma-d jaugoo-d’en aa **ii** **muja-nd**.
soil-PAR foot-PL-GEN under NEG.3 feel-PST.PTCP
‘(S)he didn’t feel the soil under her/his feet.’ (VeS, Kettunen 1920: 83)

²Data from these fieldtrips are marked with the village and year in which the data was collected in parentheses after the translation of the example.

- (5) Nece-n maksa-n taga ii liine annie mehe-l.
 this-GEN friend-GEN behind NEG.3 FUT.CNG Annie man-ADE
 ‘Annie will not marry this friend.’ (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 166)

In affirmative clauses the main verb inflects for both person (6) and tense (7). In the negative phrase person marking is transferred to the auxiliary as indicated above, whereas in past tense the main verb has a past tense participle affix (3–4) instead of the primary past tense marker.

- (6) Mina tabada-n tii-d da riko-n.
 1SG catch-1SG 2PL-PAR and kill-1SG
 ‘I will catch and kill you!’ (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 39)
- (7) El-i-maa nel’ vo-t hän-mu.
 live-PST-1PL four year-PAR 3SG-COM
 ‘We lived four years with him.’ (VeS, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 5)

Structurally a basic affirmative declarative clause and its negative pair are asymmetric. The morphosyntactic pattern of the negative VP diverges from the affirmative one as the person marker shifts to the inflecting negative auxiliary (NEG.AUX) in negative phrases. This happens both in the subjective (basic) and the reflexive paradigm (Table 1³). However, reflexive verbs display a morphologically split strategy in negation as the auxiliary adopts the regular person marker, whereas the lexical verb manifests a distinct reflexive stem for connegative. In most dialects connegative forms index plural. In contrast to declarative clauses, the affirmative and negative imperative clauses are, however, symmetric (see, §2.2).

A similar negation pattern is used in simple past tense clauses. Given that there is no past tense NEG.AUX, tense is marked on the lexical verb both in affirmative (-i-) and negative clauses that have a past tense participle (-nu(d) ~ -nd) like other Finnic languages (Table 2). The morpheme order in past tense negative forms is NEG-PERSON V-PST-PL as in (8) and (9). Connegative forms agree in number (plural) with inflecting plural NEG.AUX (see, §2.1.3).

³Historically, present tense 3PL forms originate from an impersonal form labeled as “passive” in the grammatical descriptions of various Finnic languages. However, vernacular Veps does not make the distinction between 3PL and passive form because both can be used in impersonal functions. Paradigmatically, this has caused the merger of 3PL and passive paradigms. In this article, historical passive forms that mostly represent Northern and Central Veps are encoded as 3PL, whereas in Ludic the glossing PASS is applied.

Table 1: Affirmative and negative paradigm of the verb *tehta* ‘do’ and *pestas* ‘wash (oneself)’ in Central Veps (Zaitseva 2001: 254, 267–268)

	subjective conjugation teh-ta do-INF		reflexive conjugation pes-tas wash (oneself)-INF	
1SG	tege-n	e-n tege	peze-moi	e-n peste
2SG	tege-d	e-d tege	peze-toi	e-d peste
3SG	tege-b	ii /ei tege	peze-soi / peze-se	ii /ei peste
1PL	tege-m	e-m / e-mei teh-koi	peze-moiš	e-m peste / e-mei pes-koiš
2PL	tege-t	e-d / e-tei teh-koi	peze-toiš	e-d peste / e-tei pes-koiš
3PL	teh-tas	ii / ei teh-koi	peze-soiš	ii peste / ei pes-koiš

- (8) E-mei teh-nu-goi

NEG-1PL do-PST-PL

‘We didn’t do.’

- (9) E-m pez-nu-ks-oi(š).

NEG-1PL wash-PST-REFL-PL

‘We didn’t wash ourselves.’

Occasionally negation may trigger a specific connegative form which, contrary to affirmative declarative sentences, displays a derivative suffix *-ške* (10–11) (cf., below (13) and (72)). This particular suffix typically occurs only in 2SG imperative and connegative, which are morphologically unmarked categories. Here, it is labeled as the marker of perfective aspect.

- (10) E-n
- probi-ške**
- , ii
- ole-ške**
- mugoš-t.

NEG-1SG try-PFV NEG.3 be-PFV such-PAR

‘I didn’t try, there wasn’t such a thing.’ (VeC, Mäggär’v 2007)

- (11) Ningoš-t igas e-bad
- nägi-ške**
- durako-d.

such-PAR ever NEG-3PL see-PFV stupid-PAR

‘They never saw such an idiot.’ (VeS, Kettunen 1920: 71)

2.1.2 Reversed word order V + Neg

In addition to the default word order NEG + v, Veps displays a reversed word order in negative clauses v + NEG. The previous one is more frequent but the latter one is relatively frequent as well. This kind of alternation indicates a special

Table 2: Affirmative and negative simple past tense paradigm of the verb *tehta* ‘do’ and *pestas* ‘wash (oneself)’ in Eastern and Western Central Veps ([Zaitseva 2001](#): 254–255, 268)

	subjective conjugation teh-ta do-INF		reflexive conjugation pes-tas wash(oneself)-INF	
1SG	teg-i-n	e-n tege-n(d)	pez-i-moi	e-n pez-nu-kse e-n pez-nu-s
2SG	teg-i-d’	e-d tege-n(d)	pez-i-toi	e-d pez-nu-kse e-d pez-nu-s
3SG	teg-i	ii tege-n(d)	pez-i-he	ii pez-nu-kse ei pez-nu-s
1PL	teg-i-m teg-i-me	e-m teh-nuhu e-me teh-nu-goi	pez-i-moiš	e-m pez-nu-ks-oi(š) e-me pez-nu-soiš
2PL	teg-i-d’ teg-i-tei	e-d teh-nuhu e-tei teh-nu-goi	pez-i-toiš	e-d pez-nu-ks-oi(š) e-tei pez-nu-soiš
3PL	teg-i-ba	ii teh-nuhu ei teh-nu-goi	pez-i-(he-)zoiš	ii pez-nu-ks-oi(š) ei pez-nu-soiš

emphasis and topical focus in discourse. More generally, the verb characteristically precedes its dependents following the SVO pattern. A sentence-final verb may occur in affirmative clauses shifting the focus to the preceding object or adverbial, which may also occur in sentence-initial position. The sentence-final negative auxiliary shifts the person-marking unit to the last position as in affirmative clauses. The scope of negation of the reversed order V + NEG is larger as the sentence-final NEG.AUX scopes over the whole clause (12–15).

- (12) Mö sō-htä-n e-maa.
1PL eat-MOM-PST.PTCP NEG-1PL
‘We didn’t eat.’ (VeS, [Kettunen 1920](#): 93)
- (13) Ende bajri-d aje-l-i-ške e-bad keloo-mu.
Earlier boyar-PL ride-CONT-PST-MOM NEG-3PL bell-PROL
‘Earlier the boyars didn’t ride around with ringing bells.’ (VeS, [Kettunen 1925](#): 17)
- (14) Hän-dast minä se tunde-nu vuu e-n.
3SG.F.ACC 1SG it know-PST.PTCP yet NEG-1SG
‘I didn’t know her, yet.’ (VeC, [Ladv 2014](#))

- (15) Q: A vonuka-d maht-tas, elge-tas vepsa-ks?
 but grand.child-PL can-3PL understand-3PL Veps-TRA
 ‘But (your) grandchildren can, understand Veps?’
- A: Elge-tas, a pagiš-koi ii.
 understand-3PL but talk-CNG.PL NEG.3
 ‘They understand but don’t speak.’ (VeC, Ladv 2007)

This kind of permutation of constituent order is not limited to the position of the lexical verb and the negative auxiliary. The most fundamental change is seen in the use of the inherited demonstrative pronoun *se* ‘it’, which typically occurs in a prenominal position. However, it is very frequently used as a postnominal focus particle that has undergone both syntactic and semantic change. This kind of postnominal use of the particle is attested in certain other Finnic languages and Northern Russian dialects as well. In Veps, the frequency is considerably higher than in other Finnic varieties, which correlates with secondary changes in the system of demonstrative pronouns (Yurayong 2020).

The reversed constituent order *v* + NEG instead of NEG + *v* has not been investigated in more detail so far. A parallel instance can be shown in Ludic (16), an intermediate variety between Karelian and Veps, and Eastern South Estonian (Seto), in which it is highly frequent (Lindström et al. 2021).

- (16) Ludic (ISO: lud, Glottocode: ludi1246, Uralic)
 Üö-kš mindai ni ke-he laske-da ei.
 night-TRA 1SG.ACC NEG who-ILL let-PASS.CNG NEG
 ‘I am not allowed to anywhere for the night.’ (Ojansuu et al. 1934: 178)

2.1.3 Number agreement with plural subjects

Compared to other neighboring and related languages, number agreement between the main verb and subject is a language-specific Veps feature (see, Table 1 and Table 2 above). While an unmarked connegative form is characteristic of both the Finnic and Saamic languages, the main verb carries a specific plural marker in Veps (17–18). Thus, instead of having the verb stem as the sole connegative form, Veps has a morphologically distinct plural connegative. A similar agreement pattern is found in Komi, a more eastern Uralic language (Hamari 2015: 242, 246–248).

- (17) Bat' da mam ii roht-kei külb-ma-ha päst-ta.
 dad and mom NEG.3 dare-CNG.PL bath-INF-ILL let-INF
 'Dad and mom dare not let [her/him] go to the sauna.' (VeN, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 157)
- (18) Papad i tütär kazaka-d familiou ii
 clergyman's.wife and daughter farmhand-PAR surname.ADE NEG.3
 kuc-koi.
 call-CNG.PL
 'The clergyman's wife and daughter do not call the farm-hand by
 surname.' (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 101)

In this case, too, Ludic (19) shares this characteristic with Veps. The use of a plural connegative in declarative sentences has a parallel in plural imperative (prohibitive)

- (19) Ludic (ISO: lud, Glottocode: ludi1246, Uralic)
 E-m ol-guu d'äl'ges kävü-tud, kaik nämä-d vahna-d.
 NEG-1PL be-CNG.PL after visit-PST.PTCP all 3PL-PL old-PL
 'We haven't been there afterwards, they are all old.' (Kettunen 1943b)

2.2 Non-declarative sentences

This section discusses negative sentences, which display one of the two morphologically marked moods, i.e. the imperative (prohibitive) and conditional. Furthermore, the negative question phrase and role of copula in non-declarative sentences will be discussed. The negative imperative is an analytic construction consisting of the auxiliary *ala* PROH and the main verb.

Imperative forms inflect for person except for first person singular. Second person singular imperative is unmarked both in affirmative and negative sentences. Both the prohibitive auxiliary and the connegative are unmarked (20–21). The imperative affix *-ga-*, used in other persons than second singular, is attached to both the lexical verb and the auxiliary, which both inflect for person (22–23). The same affix occurs in affirmative plural imperative as in the Russian borrowing *vzaderš-ka-t* hold-IMP-2PL '(you many) hold!'. There is quite a lot of phonological variation between the Veps dialects but the morphosyntactic pattern is the same in the whole language area (Zaitseva 2001: 121–137, 247–285).

Table 3: Affirmative and negative imperative paradigm of the verb *nähta* ‘see’ and *pestas* ‘wash (oneself)’ in Standardized Veps (Zaitseva 2000: 212–213, 222)

	pur-da bite-INF		pes-tas wash (oneself)-INF	
	affirmative	negative	affirmative	negative
2SG	pure	ala pure	peste	ala peste
3SG	pur-ga-ha	al-g-ha pur-goi	pes-ka-has	al-g-ha peste
1PL	pur-ga-m	al-ga-m pur-goi	pes-ka-moi	al-ga-m pes-koiš
2PL	pur-ga-t	al-ga-t pur-goi	pes-ka-toi	al-ga-t pes-koiš
3PL	pur-ga-ha	al-g-ha pur-goi	pes-ka-has	al-g-ha pes-koiš

- (20) Ala ambu, Sašku, edha-n kondii, ii put-ta.
 PROH shoot.CNG Sašku distant-ESS bear NEG.3 hit-INF
 ‘Don’t shoot, Sašku, the bear is too far, one cannot hit.’ (VeS, Kettunen 1920: 99)
- (21) Ala lö mindei!
 PROH hit.CNG 1SG.ACC
 ‘Don’t hit me!’ (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 40)
- (22) A se pagiže-b: al-ga-t män-gä-t!
 but it talk-3SG PROH-IMP-2PL go-IMP-2PL
 ‘However, it says: don’t go!’ (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 20)
- (23) Vzaderš-ka-t neti-da neidiš-t i ni kut au-ga-t päst-kä-t.
 hold-IMP-2PL this-PAR girl-PAR and NEG how PROH-IMP-2PL let-IMP-2PL
 ‘Hold this girl and don’t let her in any case.’ (VeS, Kettunen 1925: 24)

The other affixal mood, the conditional, inflects for person in present and past tense. Unlike the imperative, the mood affix always attaches to the main verb and never to the auxiliary. In this case, the NEG.AUX *ei / ii* ‘no’ inflects for person while mood and tense are properties of the main verb, compare for instance *näg-iži-n* see-COND-1SG but *e-n näg-iži* NEG-1SG see-COND (see, Table 4).

The negative conditional sentence, as a rule, correlates morphosyntactically with negation in basic declarative sentences as the auxiliary inflects for person and the main verb inflects for tense and mood (see, Table 1 and Table 4,

Table 4: Affirmative and negative conditional paradigm of the verb *nähta* ‘see’ and *pestas* ‘wash (oneself)’ in Standardized Veps (Zaitseva 2000: 213–214, 223)

	näh-ta see-INF		pes-tas wash (oneself)-INF	
	affirmative	negative	affirmative	negative
1SG	näg-iži-n	e-n näg-iži	pez-iži-moi	e-n pez-iži-he
2SG	näg-iži-d	e-d näg-iži	pez-iži-toi	e-d pez-iži-he
3SG	näg-iži	ei näg-iži	pez-iži-he	ei pez-iži-he
1PL	näg-iži-m	e-m näg-iži	pez-iži-moiš	e-m pez-iži-he
2PL	näg-iži-t	e-t näg-iži	pez-iži-toiš	e-t pez-iži-he
3PL	näg-iži-ba	ei näg-iži	pez-iži-he	ei pez-iži-he

above). The only exception is that there is no plural agreement between the lexical verb and the subject in the conditional. In the reflexive conjugation the reflexive marker is attached to the mood affix and, hence, the morpheme order is NEG-PERSON V-COND-REFL. The third person singular and plural are always distinct in Southern Veps (24), whereas in other varieties they often have identical forms (25).

- (24) Pä-n kärri i paglaa sidoo, mise
 head-GEN(-ACC) wrap.PST.3SG and string.ADE tie.PST.3SG in.order.to
 velje-d e-bad tedustaa-ž.
 brother-PL NEG-3PL know-COND
 ‘(S)he wrapped the head and tied with a string so that the brothers would not know.’ (VeS, Kettunen 1920: 68)
- (25) Peiteiči kundle-n (ukse-n taga), miise ii tetä-iž
 secretly listen-1SG (door-GEN behind) in.order.to NEG.3 know-COND
 rahvaz perti-š.
 people house-INE
 ‘I listen secretly (behind the door) so that people in the house would not know.’ (VeN, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 164)

The polar question phrase is formed by a question particle *-ik*, which is attached to the verb, in the negative phrase the inflecting NEG.AUX. The main verb displays an unmarked connegative form as in declarative clauses (26–27).

- (26) **E-n-ik** mina **ole** si-lei mužik?
 NEG-1SG-Q 1SG be.CNG 2SG-ALL man
 ‘Am I not your husband?’ (VeN, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 155)
- (27) **E-d-ik** teda mi-dä ni, miše kazde-iž vaze-iže-d?
 NEG-2SG-Q know.CNG what-PAR NEG in.order.to grow-COND calf-DIM-PL
 ‘Don’t you know anything that would make the calves grow?’ (VeC,
 Kettunen & Siro 1935: 100)

2.3 Negation in stative predications

The Finnic languages, as a rule, always use a copula in stative relational clauses, which is characteristic of most Saamic languages as well but a fundamental syntactic difference in comparison with more eastern Uralic languages. Veps is an exception to this rule as it often omits the copula, although there is a lot of alternation (28–29) between Veps varieties (Grünthal 2015: 184–200). Dropping the copula is optional and functionally conditioned in affirmative clauses, whereas in negatives copula is syntactically obligatory and shows phonologically driven fusion. The lack of copula is most likely secondary and caused by the strong Russian influence.

- (28) Käzi=robeh om save-sine.
 hand=dish is clay-ADJ
 ‘There is clay in the handwashing dish.’ (VeN, Kettunen 1943b: 72)
- (29) Jorš se oghakas kala.
 ruff it thorny fish
 ‘Ruff is a thorny fish.’ (VeS, Kettunen 1943b: 70)

The difference between a clause with or without a copula is not seen in the paradigms. In the written standardized Veps copulaless clauses do not normally occur.

Unlike first and second person as well as third person plural, the constituents of the negative phrase merge in the third person singular. Forms such as *ii-li-ž* NEG-PST-COND inflecting for more categories, occur as well (Zaitseva 2001: 266). The copula may lack only in present tense affirmative declarative clauses. Other clause types involve more variation as there may be no copula in existential clauses as well (30). Tense (31–32), mood and negation are always marked by

Table 5: Present and past tense paradigms of the verb *olda* ‘be’ in Central Veps (Zaitseva 2001: 254–275, 222)

	Present		Past	
	affirmative	negative	affirmative	negative
1SG	ole-n	en ole	ol-i-n	e-n ole-n(d)
2SG	ole-d	ed ole	ol-i-d	e-d ole-n(d)
3SG	om	iile ~ ele ~ ii ~ ei	ol-i	iilend ~ ele-n
1PL	ole-m	e-m(ei) uu-goi	ol-i-m(ei)	e-m(ei) uu-nu-goi
2PL	ole-t(ai)	e-t(ei) uu-goi	ol-i-t(ei)	e-t(ei) uu-nu-goi
3PL	oma	ii uugoi ~ ei uu-goi	ol-i-ba	ii uu-nu-goi

inflecting the copula. Predications of identity and location use the same copula or non-copula construction as stative predication shown here.

- (30) Me-ide derevna-s vähä norišto-d.
 1PL-GEN village-INE few youth-PAR
 ‘There are a few young people in our village.’ (VeC, Kettunen 1943b: 40)
- (31) Pert’ mugeine lačak ol-i.
 house such lousy be-PST.3SG
 ‘The house was such a lousy one.’ (VeN, Kettunen 1943b: 72)
- (32) Edō mā gol’u ole-l-ī-n humalakaz.
 earlier 1SG always be-FREQ-PST-1SG drunkard
 ‘Earlier I always used to be a drunkard.’ (VeS, Kettunen 1943b: 74)

The basic rule is that stative relational clauses often lack the copula but marked morphosyntactic properties, such as tense and mood, trigger it. This is reflected in the emergence of a negated copula in Veps. It is based on the fusion of NEG.AUX and the copula, which may alternate with syntactically segmentable units. Thus, there is often no copula in affirmative clauses, whereas a negative copula is obligatory in existential stative relational clauses like in more eastern Uralic languages. a feature that is more commonly found in more eastern Uralic languages (Veselinova 2015). The fused forms in Veps are most commonly third person forms, (a) *iile* be.NEG.3SG and (b) *iilen(d)* be.NEG.PST.3SG, whereas other persons use an inflecting NEG.AUX + V.CNG as in basic declarative sentences. Yet,

the fusional negative existential is not fully lexicalized, and segmentable negative existential is frequently used besides the fusional pattern (33–34). Hence, the Veps negating copula alternates between two systems (cf. Veselinova 2014).

- (33) a. Sinei vel'l'e-d sizare-d?
2SG.ALL brother-PL sister-PL
'Do you have brothers or sisters?'
b. Ei ole vel'l'-i-d ni sizar-i-d.
NEG be.CNG brother-PL-PAR NEG sister-PL-PAR
'There are no brothers nor sisters.' (VeC, Ladv 2006)
- (34) Mii-le kolhoza-s ka pasporta-d ni ii ole-nd.
1PL-ALL kolkhoz-INE yes passport-PAR NEG NEG.3 be-PST.PTCP
'In the kolkhoz we did not have even a passport.' (VeC, Ladv 2006)

The fusional negating copula that occurs in both older and contemporary data (35–36) inflects for tense. The negative past tense marking participle is simply attached to the negating copula (37) like any other verb in negative past tense forms.

- (35) Biržuu mugažno eole elä-j-i-d nügude.
Birzh.ADE also NEG.be live-PTCP-PL-PAR now
'Nowadays there are no inhabitants at Birzh either.' (VeC, Mäggär'v 2007)
- (36) Iile mü-i-le ni keng-ii-d', iile mü-i-le ni sob-ii-d'.
NEG.be 1PL-PL-ALL NEG shoe-PL-PAR NEG.be 1PL-PL-ALL NEG.3 cloth-PL-PAR

'We don't have shoes, we don't have clothes.' (VeS, Kettunen 1925: 105)

- (37) Sö-dä ii mi-da ol', ni soba-d iile-nd ni
eat-INF NEG.3 what-PAR be.PST.3SG NEG cloth-PAR NEG.be-PST.PTCP NEG
kenga-d iile-nd.
shoe-PAR NEG.be-PST.PTCP
'There was nothing to eat, there were no clothes and no shoes.' (VeS, Kettunen 1920: 56)

Functionally the negating copula has the role of a negative existential. We may formulate the reanalysis and grammaticalization from a segmentable construction to a fused form as in (38).

(38) NEG.AUX + COP > NEGEX

Two inflecting units merge in this change. The negative auxiliary that inflects for person and number fuses with the copula, which inflects for tense and mood. However, there is no evidence that the Veps secondary negative existential would inflect for other than third person. A similar development is found Erzya, in which the negative existential has clear constraints and does not inflect for all persons (Hamari 2007: 188–207, 260–268; Hamari & Aasmäe 2015: 306–307). Instead of marking person, it operates as a generic negative existential. As in the case of number agreement of plural connegative forms (see, §2.1.3 above), the secondary negative existential occurs in Ludic as a shared feature (39) and may inflect for mood (40).⁴

- (39) Ludic (ISO: **lud**, Glottocode: **ludi1246**, Uralic)
 Kunne-ni sua-nu aja-da, traktoruu-d ved' iel-nu.
 where-NEG get-PST.PTCP drive-INF tractor-PAR CLT NEG.be-PST.PTCP
 'There was nowhere to drive, there was no tractor.' (Kettunen 1943b)

- (40) Ludic (ISO: **lud**, Glottocode: **ludi1246**, Uralic)
 Iel-iiž ni mičč-ii-d ur'k-ii-d da, buttob
 NEG.be-COND NEG any.kind.of-PL-PAR smell-PL-PAR and, if
 iel-iiž.
 NEG.be-COND
 'If there were no smells, if there were not.' (Kettunen 1943b)

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Compared to basic declarative clauses, negation in subordinate clauses does not diverge in any significant way. The constituent order, for instance, remains the same because NEG.AUX precedes the verb even more regularly than in affirmative clauses (cf. §2.1.1 on reversed word order). This is valid both in basic subordinate clauses (41), negative conditional clauses (42), temporal subordination, example (43) showing the maintenance of the fused negative existential in a subordinate clause, relative clauses (44), and reversed question clauses (45).

⁴More research is needed on the encoding of negative existence in Veps.

- (41) Sigä radnik ii anda-n kirjo-i-d, mišo kut vuu
 there employee NEG.3 give-PST.PTCP book-PL-PAR in.order.to how yet
 škol-ha ii kävele.
 school-ILL NEG.3SG go.CNG
 ‘There, the employee didn’t give books, because (he) doesn’t go to school,
 yet.’ (VeC, Ladv 2014)
- (42) Erašti po=telefonuu pagiže-mei ka po=vepsski, mišo
 sometimes CLT=telephone.ADE speak-1PL so CLT=Veps in.order.to
 sekreto-i-d ii teda-iž.
 secret-PL-PAR NEG.3 know-COND
 ‘Sometimes we speak Veps in the phone, so that they wouldn’t know the
 secrets.’ (VeC, Mäggär’v 2007)
- (43) Kuna mini seme-ta, ku ma-d ele.
 where 1SG.ADE plant-INF when land-PAR NEG
 ‘Where should I plant, when there is no land.’ (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935:
 409)
- (44) Tul-i-bad pert’-he äja-d ristitu-d, kudamba-d ii
 come-PST-3PL house-ILL many-PL people-PL which-PL NEG.3
 pagiš-tut ičemoi kele-l.
 speak-PST.PTCP own language-ADE
 ‘Such people came to our house, who didn’t speak Veps.’ (VeC, Pžar’
 2005)
- (45) Probyi-ka-t, mijak e-t pagiž-koi.
 try-IMP-2PL why NEG-2PL speak-CNG.PL
 ‘Try, why don’t you speak.’ (VeC, Mäggär’v 2007)

In non-finite clauses, negation may involve a modal function. In (46–47) the negative clause consisting of NEG.AUX and a non-finite verb is the predicating unit that has an epistemic meaning excluding a possible action.

- (46) Näge mitte dikar’, ni kuna ii sat-ta.
 see what.a slacker NEG where NEG.3 send-INF
 ‘Look, what a slacker! You cannot send [him] anywhere.’ (VeS, Kettunen
 1943a: 485)

- (47) Nu igä-n pagiže-moi sikš=ku, miše ii abit-ta
 well age-ACC talk-1PL because=of in.order.to NEG.3 insult-INF
 adivo-d.
 guest-PAR
 ‘We have always talked so that we wouldn’t insult the guest.’ (Päžar’ 2011)

In Veps, certain non-final verb forms may display some inflectional cases, but not all of them. The attaching of a case affix to a verb form is characteristic of non-finites that are marked with the affix *-ma-*. This is exemplified in (48), which displays the abessive case that functionally corresponds to a negative instrumental (see, §3.3 below).

- (48) Ii pida räkita-da, räkita-ma-ta pravi-ze azd’.
 NEG.3 must thrash-INF thrash-INF-ABE get.better-REFL.3SG thing
 ‘You need not thrash [him], the thing will get better without thrashing.’
 (VeN, Kettunen 1943a: 500)

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

The negation of the epistemic modal auxiliary *voi-da* ‘can’ has developed in the same way as the negating copula (see, §2.3, above). The segmentable construction consisting of NEG + v [MOD] has fused into an auxiliary which, contrary to the negative existential, formally inflects for person or, to put it more cautiously, actually reflects phonological assimilation in speech. The default negation of the epistemic modal auxiliary is manifested in Veps literary language (49–50)

- (49) No kaik-se ei voi seižu-ta-das.
 but all-FOC NEG can.CNG stand-CAUS-INF.REFL
 ‘But everything cannot be stopped.’
- (50) Siloi läžu-tihe kogonaize-l kanza-l... ei voi-nu-goi
 then be.sick-PST.3PL whole-ADE family-ADE NEG can-PST.PTCP-PL
 nous-ta homendese-l...
 get.up-INF morning-ADE
 ‘The whole family was sick then... it was not possible to get up in the morning.’

The original morpheme order is maintained in the fusion of the two segmental units. Hence, it does not involve the shift of person marking affix to the end of the fused form, which would indicate a complete reanalysis of the construction.

Instead, the original morpheme order is preserved and the first syllable *em* (< *e-n* NEG-1SG), alternatively *ii* NEG.3 indicates person (51–53).

- (51) Sousim mä **emboo** ra-ta.
 at.all 1SG cannot.1SG work-INF
 ‘I can’t work at all.’ (VeS, Kettunen 1920: 78)
- (52) **Emboi** tora-ta tii-deke.
 cannot.1SG quarrel-INF 2PL-COM
 ‘I cannot quarrel with you.’ (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 92)
- (53) Mä paigaah-ii-n’ kondja-d, put-ta **emboo-le-n**, pauš-gi
 1SG shoot-PST-1SG bear-PAR hit-INF cannot.1SG-FREQ-PST.PTCP Pauš-FOC
 ambuu da put-ta **iivoo-le-n** put-ta.
 shoot.PST.3SG and hit-INF cannot.3SG-FREQ-PST.PTCP hit-INF
 ‘I shot at the bear but I could not hit (it), P. shot, too, and could not hit.’
 (VeS, Kettunen 1920: 105)

3 Non-clausal negation

In Veps, there is a clear distinction between clausal and non-clausal negation, which is more strongly affected by Russian model. The negative focus particle *ni* borrowed from Slavic (Russian) is widely used as the basic means for non-clausal negation and is not inflected. It typically precedes a pronoun or a quantifier, whereas nouns are not negated, although the negative focus particle *ni* may occur as a connector (54) in a prenominal position and occasionally shift to a post-nominal position (55).

- (54) Ei ole vel’l’-i-d **ni** sizar-i-d.
 NEG be.CNG brother-PL-PAR NEG sister-PL-PAR
 ‘There aren’t (= I haven’t got) any brothers nor sisters.’ (VeC, Ladv 2006)
- (55) Mii-le kolhoza-s ka pasporta-d **ni** ii ole-nd.
 1PL-ALL kolkhoz-INE so passport-PAR NEG NEG.3 be-PST.PTCP
 ‘We didn’t have even a passport [identity card] in the kolkhoz.’ (VeC, Ladv 2006)

3.1 Negative replies

There are different ways to reply to questions, proposals and statements that form polar interrogatives (cf. Miestamo 2011). Both question particles (56) and declarative clauses that lack a question marker (57-58) are used to form polar interrogatives in Veps, whereas intonation, for instance, does not play any role. Negative replies are typically finite constructions either repeating the predicate and converting the person to the respondent, 2SG > 1SG (56-57), or simply marking the predicative with the inflecting NEG.AUX (58; cf. also (33), above). In both cases the answer exhibits a negative reply to the propositional content of the question.

- (56) Q: Mahtad-ik sinä iče kirjuta-da vepsä-ks?
 can-Q 2SG self write-INF Veps-TRA
 ‘Can you write in Veps yourself?’

A: E-n mahta. Nügüd ni-ken ii mahta-gi mii-l yes.
 NEG-1SG can.CNG now NEG-who NEG.3 can.CNG-FOC 1PL-ADE yes
 ‘No I can’t. Nowadays none of us can.’ (VeC, Ladv 2006)

- (57) Q: Sinä mahta-d luge-da vepsä-ks? Vot nügüd oma nene kniga-d da
 2SG can-2SG read-INF Veps-TRA well now are these book-PL and
 om...
 is
 ‘Can you read Veps? Nowadays there are these books and...’

A: E-n mahta.
 NEG-1SG can.CNG
 ‘No, I can’t.’ (VeC, Ladv 2006)

- (58) Q: I el-i-d igä-n tägä Ladv-s?
 And live-PST-2SG age-ACC here Ladv-INE
 ‘And you have lived the whole life here in Ladv?’

A: E-n. Ol-i-n evakuoi-tud Sverdlovskie oblasti-he.
 NEG-1SG be-PST-1SG evacuate-PST.PTCP Sverdlovsk oblast-ILL
 ‘No. I was evacuated to Sverdlovsk oblast.’ (VeC, Ladv 2006)

If the question involves a negative clause, the reply may simply repeat the NEG.AUX. In a focused position the fusional negative existential *iile* ‘there is not’ (see, §2.3 above) is not always used but occurs in its original form consisting of NEG.AUX + v. The grammaticalized negative existential consisting of two units is transparent in negative replies (59).

- (59) Q: Sinä konz openz-i-toi škola-s, vepsä-n kel-t
 2SG when learn-PST.REFL.2SG school-INE Veps-GEN language-PAR
 ii ole-nd?
 NEG.3 be-PST.PTCP
 ‘When you went to school, there was no Veps language?’
- A: Ii.
 no
 ‘No.’ (VeC, Ladv 2006)

Occasionally, the negative reply may be triggered by a negative question, which is initiated by the negative focus particle *ni* ‘no’ (60) (see, (54–55) above and §3.2 below).

- (60) Q: Ni e-d mahta kirjuta-da ka, mugažo?
 NEG NEG-2SG can.CNG write-INF yes, also
 ‘You cannot write either, can you?’
- A: Kirjuta-da multe po=vepsski e-n mahta, multe
 write-INF otherwise CLT=Veps NEG-1SG can.CNG otherwise
 mahta-n.
 can-1SG
 ‘In Veps I cannot write, otherwise I can.’ (VeC, Ladv 2006)

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Indefinite pronouns in Veps are based on an interrogative pronoun, which is typologically very widespread (Haspelmath 2013). The interrogative is followed by a postnominal demonstrative pronoun *se* ‘it’ as in *ken-se* who-it ‘somebody’ and *kus-se* where-it ‘somewhere’ (Grünthal 2015: 278–281; Hienonen 2010, Karjalainen 2016: 51–55). A less frequent (cf. Kettunen 1943a: 417–420) but possible way of forming the indefinite pronouns applies the negative particle *ni* instead of the postinterrogative demonstrative *se* ‘it’ (61–63) (cf. Yurayong 2020).

- (61) Ken-ni elä-b sigä Mäggärve-s?
 who-NEG live-3SG there Mäggär’v-INE
 ‘Does anyone live there in Mäggär’v?’ (VeC, Kurba 2006)
- (62) Aka-le mi-n-ni sanu-b da ii tuukui.
 wife-ALL what-ACC-NEG say-3SG and NEG.3 understand.CNG
 ‘He says something to (his) wife but they don’t understand.’ (VeC, Ladv 2006)

- (63) **Ku-s-ni** lug-i-n.
 where-INE-NEG read-PST-1SG
 ‘I have read (it) somewhere.’ (VeC, Ladv 2006)

Negative indefinite pronouns are formed by using the same negative focus particle *ni* ‘no’ in a pre-interrogative position, in which no affix or any other constituent can occur between the two units. This is a common pattern and any interrogatives can be converted to negative indefinites this way. The pronominal stem typically inflects for case (64–68). These examples represent one type of clausal negation and involve the whole verb phrase.

- (64) Minu-l **ni** **ken** ii küzu-n, ken mina ole-n.
 1SG-ADE NEG who NEG.3 ask-PST.PTCP who 1SG be-1SG
 ‘No one asked me, who I am.’ (VeC, Ladv 2005)
- (65) Ei ole-nd sigä enamb **ni** **ke-dä**. škola-d ei
 NEG.3SG be-PST.PTCP there more NEG who-PAR school-PAR NEG.3SG
 ole-nd i **ni** **mi-dä** ii ole-nd.
 be-PST.PTCP and NEG what-PAR NEG.3 be-PST.PTCP
 ‘There was nobody any longer. There was no school, there was nothing.’
 (VeC, Ladv 2006)
- (66) Ni ühte-d kopeka-d **ni** **ku-spei** mii-lei.
 NEG one-PAR kopeck-PAR NEG where-ELA 1PL-ALL
 ‘We don’t get a single kopeck from anywhere.’ (VeC, Ladv 2006)
- (67) G’ägibaba neci-da uko-n tütar-t pagasta-ha ii pästa **ni**
 witch this-PAR man-GEN daughter-PAR village-ILL NEG.3 let.CNG NEG
 kut.
 how
 ‘The witch won’t let the man’s daughter to the village in any way.’ (VeC,
 Kettunen & Siro 1935: 125)
- (68) Ka iile mi-lei s’o-da ant-ta tii-le-tei **ni** **mi-da**.
 yes NEG.be 1SG-ALL eat-INF give-INF 2PL.ALL-2PL NEG what-PAR
 ‘Well, I don’t have anything to give you to eat.’ (VeN, Kettunen & Siro
 1935: 154)

The same particle *ni* functions as a focus particle when it precedes the quantifier *üks* ‘one’ but otherwise its use in quantifier phrases is limited. The quantifier inflects for case (69–70).

- (69) Eras-i-š kül-i-š kole-b vähe-mb rahvas-t a ii
 some-PL-INE village-PL-INE die-3SG less-COMP people-PAR but NEG.3
 sündu ni üks laps.
 be.born.CNG NEG one child
 ‘In certain villages less people die but not a single child is born.’ (VeC, Päär 2005)
- (70) Ni ühte-d supalaš-t ii jä-nd.
 NEG one-PAR morsel-PAR NEG.3 remain-PST.PTCP
 ‘Not a single morsel remained.’ (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 97)

Adverbs based on pronominal stems display the same negative particle *ni* ‘no’ which marks negative indefinites as shown above, and adverbs (71).

- (71) Ani hüvä-d ii ole-n mugažno. Ni sinnä ni tännä, ni
 Very good-PAR NEG.3 be-PST.PTCP likewise NEG there NEG here NEG
 huba ni hüvä.
 bad NEG good
 ‘It wasn’t very good either. Not there nor here, not bad nor good.’ (VeC, Mäggär’v 2007)

There are no adverbs, which are exclusively negative. Certain adverbs, such as *igas* ‘(n)ever’ (72) and *enamb(a)* ‘more’ can be used as negative polarity items in a negative clause but they lack any formal label of negation. The partitive form *enamba-d* more-PAR ‘(any) more’ often occurs in a negative clause (73–74) and follows a salient syntactic rule in all Finnic languages, in which the negative verb phrase triggers a partitive object. This is a more general characteristic of the verb’s nominal dependents in the negative clause.

- (72) Ningoš-t iga-s e-bad näg-i-ške durako-d.
 such-PAR age-INE NEG-3PL see-PST-PFV stupid-PAR
 ‘They had never seen such a stupid one.’ (VeS, Kettunen 1920: 71)
- (73) Enamba-d ni kävele-nud e-n.
 more-PAR NEG visit-PST.PTCP NEG-1SG
 ‘I haven’t been there later.’ (VeC, Ladv 2006)
- (74) Uk se händäst enamb-i-d ii lö.
 man it 3SG.ACC more-PL-PAR NEG.3 hit.CNG
 ‘The man doesn’t hit her/him any more.’ (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 40)

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

The abessive case *-ta*, functionally a negative counterpart of the comitative (instrumental) marking the lack of certain property, is frequently used in Veps (75). Unlike other Finnic languages, Veps does not display a negative adposition ‘without’ (Grünthal 2003: 81–83; Pantermöller 2007), which increases the frequency of the abessive. In addition to abessive, nouns may display a caritive derivative affix that is likewise used in attributes. In this respect, nouns inflecting for the abessive resemble derived adjectives, which display a caritive affix *-toi ~ -toma-* marking the lack of a certain property (76). There is one significant syntactic difference between these two categories because a prenominal attribute that displays the abessive agrees in case with the head, e.g. *voukta-ta hebo-ta* white-ABE horse-ABE ‘without a white horse’, whereas a caritive derivation does not trigger case agreement.

- (75) Minä oli-n rado-ta.
 1SG be-PST-1SG work-ABE
 ‘I was unemployed.’ (VeC, Ladv 2014)

- (76) Mö olo-mei tata-toma-d i mama-toma-d.
 1PL be-1PL father-CAR-PL and mother-CAR-PL
 ‘We are without father and mother.’ (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 121)

In comparison with the comitative that may occur as a co-ordinating affix, the abessive functions in the opposite way. While the comitative makes two constituents co-referential the abessive lacks this property (77–78), cf. *ak mužika-nke* woman husband-COM ‘woman and/with man’.

- (77) Sid hii sanu-i-ba, mišto ni kut mii sinu-ta elä-da e-m
 then 3PL say-PST-3PL that NEG how 1PL 2SG-ABE live-INF NEG-1PL
 voi.
 can.CNG
 ‘Then they said that we cannot live without you anyway.’ (VeC, Ladv 2006)
- (78) Nece mužika-ta ak.
 this husband-ABE woman
 ‘This is an unmarried woman.’ (VeC, Kettunen 1943b: 354)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

The reversed word order and multifunctionality of the NEG.AUX has given rise to syntactically ambiguous constructions, in which the scope of negation extends beyond the verb (cf. Kettunen 1943a: 437–439). In this particular phrase type NEG.AUX is a part of the VP and displays a standard pattern. However, as the closest constituent preceding the adverbial, it also functions as the marker of lexical negation of the adverbial despite the fact that it primarily marks the person of the verb. In these constructions both NEG.AUX and the lexical verb exceptionally mark the person. Furthermore, other constituents may occur between the verb and NEG.AUX (79–81).

- (79) Mä ajoo-n' e-n ani lähä-ks.
 1SG drive.PST-1SG NEG-1SG very close-TRA
 'I didn't drive very close.' (VeS, Kettunen 1920: 105)
- (80) Homaiče-moiš sinun-ked e-n pigai.
 notice-REFL.1PL 2SG-COM NEG-1SG/1PL soon
 'With you we didn't notice one another very soon.' (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 81)
- (81) Ven'a-ks jo sanu-n da erašti e-n pravil'no.
 Russian-TRA already say-1SG and sometimes NEG-1SG right
 'In Russian I sometimes do not say correctly.' (VeC, Ladv 2007)

This construction is ambiguous for two reasons as it contradicts two rules. Firstly, in a simple verb phrase, the NEG.AUX inflects for person, whereas the lexical verb displays a connegative form. In (74–76) both NEG.AUX and the lexical verb inflect for person manifesting a non-canonical pattern. Secondly, lexical negation should be based on an uninflecting negative particle that precedes the adverb (see, above §3.2). In (74–76) the inflection of NEG.AUX contradicts the rule of an uninflecting negative particle that precedes the adverb. The occurrence of post-verbal NEG.AUX correlates with predicates that occur in Veps in a sentence-final position more often than in other Finnic languages for topical reasons. There is no transparent reason for the emergence of this ambiguous negation pattern, which strongly deviates from two canonical morphosyntactic patterns. The reason for ambiguity lies in the location of NEG.AUX between the lexical verb and adverbial, and that additional verbal determinants may occur between the lexical verb and NEG.AUX.

4.2 Negative polarity

There are only few specialized negative polarity items in Veps. The same negative focus particle *ni*, which is commonly used in negative indefinites and adverbs (see, §3.2), operates as a general polarity marker. Individual words repeatedly occur in negative clauses, if they share some other morphosyntactic property characteristic of negation. Adverbials such as (*ni*) *ühte-d* (NEG) one-PAR, *ei üh-t kerda-d* NEG one-PAR time-PAR, (*ni*) *mittus-t* (NEG) what.kind.of-PAR, *enamba-d* more-PAR and *enamb-i-d* more-PL-PAR that are compatible with quantifiers (see, 3.2), for instance, occur in the partitive (see, §4.3), a typical indication of the scope of negation in NP. The same is valid to the adverb *igas* ~ *igäs* ‘(n)ever’ (82), a lexicalized inessive form of *igä* ‘age, time’.

- (82) *Vina-d igä-s e-n jo-n.*
 wine-PAR age-INE NEG-1SG drink-PST.PTCP
 ‘I have never drank wine.’ (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 57)

None of the listed lexical units marks negation alone but functions as a dependent of a negative phrase.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

The scope of negation is illustratively seen in those clause types and negative phrases which trigger the partitive in the dependent. Constituents that regularly display or may display the nominative or genitive(-accusative) case in an affirmative clause inflect for partitive in a corresponding negative phrase. Thus, a subject of a negative existential clause inflects for partitive (83), and so does the subject of a reflexive verb (84).

- (83) *Škola-d ei ole-nd i ni mi-dä ii ole-nd.*
 school-PAR NEG.3SG be-PST.PTCP and NEG what-PAR NEG.3 be-PST.PTCP
 ‘There was no school and there wasn’t anything.’ (VeC, Ladv 2006)
- (84) *Ni kala-d ni rebaš-t ii teh-nu-nzhe.*
 NEG fish-PAR NEG fox-PAR NEG.3 do-PST.PTCP-REFL.3SG
 ‘There wasn’t any fish nor fox.’ (lit. ‘It didn’t become a fish nor a fox.’)
 (VeS, Kettunen 1943b: 440)

A similar permutation takes place in the object of a transitive clause, which regularly has the partitive in a negative clause (85).

- (85) **Bukv-i-d** ii teda.
 letter-PL-PAR NEG.3 know.CNG
 ‘(S)he doesn’t know (the) letters.’ (VeC, Ladv 2006)

This characteristic is shared by all Finnic languages as the partitive is the default case of object in negative transitive clauses. The correlation between negation and partitive and the dominance of this morphosyntactic pattern is so strong that adverbials such as *enamba-d* more-PAR ‘(no) more’ used as polarity items (cf. 4.2) in negative clauses display the partitive as well (86).

- (86) **Enamba-d** mii vepsä-n kel-t se te-tud e-mei.
 more-PAR 1PL Veps-GEN lang-PAR it know-PST.PTCP NEG-1PL
 ‘We didn’t know more Veps language.’ (VeC, Ladv 2006)

4.4 Reinforcing negation

There are several ways of reinforcing negation. Most frequently, the same negative focus particle *ni*, which is widely used in non-clausal negation, occurs as a reinforcing unit in a negative clause. While the inflecting NEG.AUX operates as the head of the VP, the negative focus particle precedes the nominal dependent of the verb (87–88).

- (87) **Ni ühte-d vajeh-t** e-n ope-nud.
 NEG one-PAR word-PAR NEG-1SG learn-PST.PTCP
 ‘I didn’t learn any single word.’ (VeC, Mäggär’v 2007)
- (88) **Ii ole ni keda.**
 NEG.3 be.CNG NEG who-PAR
 ‘There isn’t anybody.’ (Ladv 2006)

In certain clause types the negative focus particle parallelly functions as a coordinating conjunction 89 (cf. 4.5) and may also be reduplicated (90; cf. above also 84). This kind of connective negation in Veps is similar with Russian, other Balto-Slavic and Romance languages (van der Auwera et al. 2021: 46–53). In both (89) and (90) a negative VP manifests primary negation. In (90) the reversed order v + NEG is an additional way of reinforcing clausal negation.

- (89) **Vaštke-s ong-he ni uštke-he** ii koki.
 calm-INE hook-ILL NEG lure-ILL NEG.3 bite.CNG
 ‘In calm wheather (the fish) doesn’t bite the hook nor the lure.’ (VeC, Kettunen 1943b: 435)

- (90) Neižne **ni** sö-ške **ni** jo-ške **ii** kahte-s nedali-s.
 Girl NEG eat.CNG-PFV NEG drink.CNG-PFV NEG.3 two-INE week-INE
 ‘The girl hasn’t eaten nor drunk for two weeks.’ (VeS, Kettunen 1943b: 277)

In replies to questions the interrogative *kutak* ‘how’ may operate both as a polarity item characteristic of negative phrases and reinforce negation by turning the question (91). This phrase corresponds to Russian *kak ne!* how NEG ‘Absolutely not!’. In Veps an enclitic focus particle *-ak* is attached to the interrogative stem *kut* ‘how’. Another interrogative *mijak* ~ *mejak* ‘why’ sharing the same affix may function the same way in reinforced replies.

- (91) a. Tütr-i-deke pagiže-d vepsa-ks?
 daughter-PL-COM speak-2SG Veps-TRA
 ‘With the daughters you speak Veps?’
 b. Pagiže-n, **kut-ak** **ii!**?
 speak-1SG how-CLT NEG.3
 ‘I do, why shouldn’t I!’ (Ladv 2006)

Although Veps has some focus particles, none of them is exclusively negative. In a negative clause the general focus particle *-gi/-ki* reinforces the statement (92). Standardized Veps separates this affix *-ki* with a hyphen, e.g. *tedand-ki*, glossed *teda-nd-ki* know-PST.PTCP.FOC.

- (92) Neci-l aka-l **ii** **küzu-nd-gi**.
 this-ADE woman-ADE NEG.3 ask-PST.PTCP-FOC
 ‘(S)he didn’t even ask this woman.’ (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 118)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

A very frequent clause type is the polar clause, which operates with a multifunctional particle *ka* ‘yes; so’. Syntactically, it corresponds to subordinating constructions, in which a conjunction initiates a clause that determines the main clause. However, the particle *ka* actually functions as a clause connector instead of an unambiguously subordinating conjunction (93–94).

- (93) Tata-in kucu-i-n svathuzi-i-le, **ka** **ii** **mäne-n**.
 father-1SG.POSS invite-PST-1SG courting-PL-ALL yes NEG.3 go-PST.PTCP
 ‘I invited my father to courting but he didn’t go.’ (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 37)

- (94) Om radio, ka ii pagiže pole-s aiga-d ka.
 is radio yes NEG.3 speak.CNG half-INE time-PAR yes
 ‘There is the radio, but half of the time it doesn’t speak.’ (VeC, Ladv 2006)

There is a contrastive particle *e(i)ka/i(i)ka* ‘or’ that originates from the fusion of the negator and *ka*. It emphasizes the polar contrast between the two clauses by pointing that the statement will conditionally happen (95–96). The bimorphemic conjunction corresponds to English ‘if...not’.

- (95) Ot-ka-t i min-daa-n’ ela-m-ha, eka perti-n
 take-IMP-2PL and 1SG-PAR-1SG.POSS live-INF-ILL or house-ACC
 sarv-ii-l kändä-n.
 horn-PL-ADE turn-1SG
 ‘Take me to live (with you), or I’ll turn up the house with my horns.’ (VeS, Kettunen 1925: 44)
- (96) Enamba-d ii ela-nu siid, ika kondii sö-nu-iž
 more-PAR NEG.3 live-PST.PTCP then or bear eat-PST.PTCP-COND.3SG
 aka-iže-n.
 woman-DIM-ACC
 ‘(She) didn’t live any longer then, or the bear would have eaten the woman.’ (VeN, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 185)

In general, affirmative and negative phrases may occur as coordinated clauses that display the standard coordinating conjunction *i* ‘and’ or *da* ‘and’, both borrowed from Russian. Example (97) represents the literary Standardized Veps and is drawn from the newspaper Kodima.

- (97) Nece-l vede-l pes-t’he laps-i-d, miše hö
 this-ADE water-ADE wash-PST.3PL child-PL-PAR in.order.to 3PL
 pare-mb kaz-de-iž da ii läžu-te-iž.
 better-COMP grow-3PL-COND and NEG.3 be.sick-3PL-COND
 ‘They used to wash children with this water so that they would grow better and wouldn’t get sick.’

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

A special semantic effect can be seen in the lexically conditioned modal transformation of the verb *käsk-ta* order-INF ‘order; tell; ask’ and its negation *ei käsk-ta* NEG order-INF ‘forbid’ (98–100). Morphosyntactically, this sentence represents a

basic declarative clause, whereas the semantic change based on negation is not characteristic of other verbs.

- (98) **Käsk-i-d**, ka mida-k e-n ota-nd?
order-PST-2SG yes what-Q NEG-1SG take-PST.PTCP
'You told to, so why didn't I take?' (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 107)
- (99) **Näge-d**, **e-d** **käske-nd** vö-da i sünd ande-i
see-2SG NEG-2SG order-PST.PTCP bring-INF and God give-PST.3SG
kümne.
ten
'You see, you forbid to take along and God gave ten.' (VeC, Kettunen & Siro 1935: 108)
- (100) **Iče-moi kele-l** **ii** **käs-tud** ka openz-i-n i
own-1PL language-ADE NEG.3 order-PST.PTCP yes learn-PST-1SG and
venä-ks da i.
Russian-TRA and and
'They forbid to (learn) in Veps, so I learned in Russian.' (VeC, Ladv 2007)

5 Conclusions

This paper has discussed a number of features characteristic of Veps negation. Like other Finnic and, more broadly, Uralic languages, certain inherent features have been preserved in Veps, whereas several language-specific innovations can also be shown. Generally speaking, Veps constitutes an illustrative example of a dynamic system in constant change. A detailed analysis of negation patterns shows a clear distinction between verbal and non-verbal negation. In declarative sentences, Veps uses a negative auxiliary like many Uralic languages do, while a negative particle is used in non-verbal negation. The negative auxiliary inflects for person but not for tense and mood, which divides the core functions of predication between the NEG.AUX and the main verb. This kind of ambiguity increases the number of mutually dependent features which diachronically originate from separate units and are affected by various mechanisms of change. An inflecting NEG.AUX is an inherent Uralic feature (cf. Miestamo et al. 2015), whereas the particle *ni* used in non-verbal constructions is borrowed from Slavic (Russian).

The most significant language-specific characteristics include the alternating constituent order of a negative clause, the emergence of bivalent negation caused by the change of the constituent order, the morphosyntactic pattern of negative

plural verbs, and the emergence of a negative existential. These are all features that distinguish the Veps negation from the neighboring languages, both genetically related and unrelated.

Table 6: Summary of negation in Veps

Form	Description	Section	Examples
<i>e-</i>	inflecting auxiliary		
	(1) Basic declarative sentences	§2.1	(1–5, 8–11, 56–58, 72, 74, 93–94, 99–100)
	(2) Reversed word order V+ Neg	§2.1.2	(12–15, 73, 76–81, 90)
	(3) Conditionals	§2.2	(24–25)
	(4) Questions	§2.2	(26–27)
	(5) Stative predications	§2.3	(33–34)
	(6) Subordinate clauses		(41–42, 44–47)
<i>iile</i>	fusional negating copula	§2.3	(35–37, 43, 53)
<i>emboo</i>	fusional modal negating (1sg)		
<i>ala</i>	imperatives	§2.2	(20–23)
<i>e(i)ka/i(i)ka</i>	contrastive negative particle used in subordinate clauses	§4.5	(95–96)
<i>ni</i>	negative particle that can be attached to all parts-of-speech		
	(1) pre- or postnominal particle	§3	(54–55, 83–84, 88–89)
	(2) negative focus particle preceding both affirmative and negative VP	§3.1	(60, 90)
	(3) indefinites and quantifiers	§3.2	(61–70, 87)
	(4) adverbs	§3.2	(71)
<i>-ta</i>	abessive case suffix (negative instrumental)	§3.3	(75, 77–78)
<i>-toi</i>	derivative suffix of caritive adjectives	§3.3	(76)
<i>igas</i>	negative adverb reinforcing negation	§3.2, §4.2	(72)
<i>enambad</i>	negative adverb reinforcing negation	§3.2	(73–74, 86)
<i>-ak</i>	polar focus particle in interrogatives	§4.4	(91)
<i>-gi</i>	reinforcing focus particle	§4.4	(92)

Abbreviations

1	first person	GEN	genitive
2	second person	ILL	illative
3	third person	IMP	imperative
ABE	abessive	INE	inessive
ACC	accusative	INF	infinitive
ADE	adessive	MOD	modal
ADJZ	adjectivizer	MOM	momentative
ALL	allative	NEG	negative
AUX	auxiliary	P	person marker
CAR	caritive	PAR	partitive
CAUS	causative	PASS	passive
CNG	connegative	PFV	perfective
COM	comitative	PL	plural
CMPR	comparative	PROL	prolative
COND	conditional	PST	past
CONT	continuative	PTCP	participle
COP	copula	POSS	possessive suffix
DIM	diminutive	Q	question marker
ELA	elative	REFL	reflexive
CLT	enclitic	SG	singular
ESS	essive	TRA	translative
EX	existential	VeC	Central Veps
FOC	focus	VeN	Northern Veps
FREQ	frequentative	VeS	Southern Veps
FUT	future		

Fieldwork data

The fieldwork data has been collected in the following villages and is archived at the Institute for the Languages of Finland (<https://www.kotus.fi/en>).

village	district / rayon	region / oblast'	year
Kurba	Podporožskiy	Leningradskaya	2006
Ladv	Podporožskiy	Leningradskaya	2005, 2006, 2007, 2014
Mäggär'v	Podporožskiy	Leningradskaya	2007
Päžar'	Babaevskiy	Vologodskaya	2005, 2011

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Negation in Andi

Timur Maisak

Following the *Questionnaire for describing the negation system of a language*, the paper presents an overview of negation in Andi, a Nakh-Daghestanian (East Caucasian) language of the Avar-Andic branch. I proceed from clausal negation to non-clausal negation, also covering various additional aspects of negation (the scope of negation, reinforcing negation, etc.), and conclude with diachronic observations and a summary of findings. Negation in the verb paradigm of Andi is symmetric in the sense that all categories have affirmative and negative forms. A peculiarity of Andi among the closely related languages is the expansion of one and the same negative marker into several domains of negation: the suffix which is the marker of standard negation is also used with non-indicative and non-finite verb forms, and is homophonous with the negative copula. Another peculiarity is the phenomenon of endoclitisis, which is only attested in negative verb forms. Besides, Andi possesses a series of “counterexpectation” verb forms which seem to go back to a periphrastic construction involving some “inherently negative” auxiliary verb; forms with such semantics are not common in the languages of the family.

Keywords: negation, negative copula, counterexpectation, endoclititics, Andi, Nakh-Daghestanian.

1 The language

Andi (ISO: [ani](#), Glottocode: [andi1255](#)) belongs to the Andic group of the Avar-Andic branch of the Nakh-Daghestanian (East Caucasian) family. The Avar-Andic branch is one of the main subdivisions of the family alongside the Nakh, Tsezic, Dargwa and Lezgian language groups, and the Lak and Khinalug languages, each constituting its own branch. Alternatively, Avar-Andic can be united with Tsezic in a single Avar-Andic-Tsezic branch; see [Dobrushina et al. \(2020: 30–31\)](#) and [Ganenkova & Maisak \(2020: 88\)](#) for details. The other Andic languages are Akhvakh, Bagvalal, Botlikh, Chamalal, Godoberi, Karata, and Tindi, all of which are minority languages spoken in the north-western part of mountain Daghestan (Russia)

by a few hundred to a few thousand speakers each. By and large, all these languages remain unwritten and are not taught at schools, but only function as means of everyday communication in the respective villages. Avar, the closest relative of the Andic languages, is, in contrast, one of the major languages of Daghestan, with more than 700,000 speakers, an elaborate dialectal system and a literary standard.

Estimates of the number of Andi speakers vary, but it is most plausible that the language is spoken by about 25,000 people, living in a few mountain villages of the Botlikhsky District (Andi, Gagatli, Rikvani, Ashali, Chanko, Zilo, and a few others) as well as in the lowlands of the Republic of Daghestan. Traditionally, the Andi varieties are subdivided into Upper Andi and Lower Andi, the latter (spoken in the villages Muni and Kvankhidatli) being mutually unintelligible with the former. In this sketch, I only use the data from Upper Andi varieties, in particular concentrating on the subdialects of the Andi and Rikvani villages, with some parallels from the Gagatli and Zilo varieties where relevant.

Although a number of grammatical sketches of Andi have been produced since the early 20th century, the language remains underdescribed. [Dirr \(1906\)](#), [Sulejmanov \(1957\)](#), [Cercvadze \(1965\)](#), and [Salimov \(2010\)](#), based on his 1968 dissertation) provide general overviews of Andi phonology and morphology. For this paper, I rely both on these sources and my own fieldwork in the village of Rikvani. Besides, I use the data from the available text corpus which includes a number of texts appended to the four aforementioned grammars (presenting different dialects), and the two books published in the 2010s which represent the first serious examples of literary production in Andi. The first of these is a collection of a dozen fairy tales from around the world, the second is a translation of the Gospel of Luke; although both are based on the variety of the largest Andi village (Andi proper), the Gospel of Luke in some aspects represents a mixture of multiple dialects. For the Zilo Andi data, I am indebted to Samira Verhees and other participants of the Zilo Andi documentation project (see also [Kaye et al. \(To appear\)](#)).

The description below is based on the *Questionnaire for describing the negation system of a language* by Matti Miestamo (with revisions carried out together with Ljuba Veselinova, see [Miestamo \(2025\)](#)) and follows the structure of the questionnaire. I proceed from clausal negation in §2 to non-clausal negation in §3, while §4 covers various additional aspects of negation (in particular, the scope of negation, reinforcing negation, etc.). In §4 I also analyse the phenomenon of endoclisis, which is only attested in negative verb forms in Andi. I conclude with a few diachronic observations and a summary of findings.

Like the Nakh-Daghestanian languages in general, Andic languages are morphologically ergative and left-branching with SOV basic word order, and have rich case systems (including many locative forms) and pervasive gender agreement (comprising three to six genders depending on the language and dialect). Verb systems in Andic are also fairly elaborate, with many synthetic as well as periphrastic forms. Andi is unusual among the closely related languages of this branch in that its present-tense copula *i* (or *ži*, *ži*, depending on the dialect) has become restricted almost entirely to existential, possessive and locative contexts, thus representing a morphologically defective existential verb rather than a true copula. It is also not used as an auxiliary, which makes the core tense and aspect paradigm of Andi entirely synthetic.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

The marker of standard negation in Andi is *-s:u*. The same marker *-s:u* is used with non-indicative and non-finite verb forms; moreover, the negative copula in Andi also has the form *s:u*, and *s:u* again is employed in constituent negation. In verb forms, I treat *-s:u* as a bound marker (suffix), as discussed in more detail in §4.6.3.

The core of the Andi verb paradigm is synthetic, and all the tense-aspect-mood inflection in synthetic verb forms is suffixal. In the indicative, there are two morphological subsystems based on two verb stems. There is a perfective subsystem comprising the two main perfective past tenses, namely the aorist and the perfect (the latter is syncretic with the perfective converb). The present progressive also belongs to this subsystem, being derived from the same verb stem. The other verb stem serves as the base for forms belonging to the imperfective and future/prospective domains, namely the present, the present habitual, the counterexpectation present, the prospective and the intentional, as well as the future proper (which is syncretic with the imperfective participle). Table 1 lists all the finite and the main non-finite synthetic forms of the verb ‘say’ in the Rikvani dialect, together with their negative counterparts. Other Upper Andi dialects may have minor differences in the form of the tense-aspect suffixes (e.g. the perfect/perfective converb suffix, which is *-d* in Rikvani, *-d:u* in the Andi and Gagatli dialects, and *-j* in Zilo). Note that the ‘not-yet’ present tense, i.e. the counterexpectation present, is included in the group of affirmative forms in Table 1, both because its meaning is not purely negative and because it has a regular morphological

counterpart bearing the negative suffix *-s:u*; on the semantics and structure of this form, see further §2.6.

Table 1: Affirmative and negative forms of the verb ‘say’ in the Rikvani dialect

	Affirmative	Negative
Aorist and related forms		
Aorist	<i>ruli</i>	<i>ruli-s:u</i>
Perfect (= Perfective Converb)	<i>ruli-d</i>	<i>ruli-d-s:u</i> / <i>ruli-č’igu</i>
Perfective Participle	<i>ruli-b</i>	<i>ruli-s:u-b</i>
Masdar (action nominal)	<i>ruli-r</i>	<i>ruli-s:u-r</i>
Progressive Present	<i>rul-rado</i>	<i>rul-rado-s:u</i>
Imperative	<i>rul-o</i>	–
Infinitive and related forms		
Infinitive	<i>rul-du</i>	<i>rul-du-s:u</i>
Present	<i>rul-duq</i>	<i>rul-duq-s:u</i>
Prospective	<i>rul-dulq</i>	<i>rul-dulq-s:u</i>
Intentional	<i>rul-dubojd</i>	<i>rul-dubojd-s:u</i>
Habitual Present	<i>rul-do</i>	<i>rul-do-s:u</i>
Prohibitive	–	<i>rul-do-s:ub</i>
Future (= Imperfective Participle)	<i>rul-dja</i>	<i>rul-do-s:ja</i>
Counterexpectation Present	<i>rul-david</i>	<i>rul-david-s:u</i>

In most verb forms, the marking of negation is straightforward: *-s:u* is simply added to an affirmative verb form, cf. the aorist (perfective past) *ruli* ‘said’ ~ *ruli-s:u* ‘didn’t say’, the perfect *ruli-d* ‘has said’ ~ *ruli-d-s:u* ‘hasn’t said’, the progressive present *rul-rado* ‘is saying’ ~ *rul-rado-s:u* ‘isn’t saying’ (R)¹, etc. The following examples illustrate the use of two indicative forms with regular negation marking, the aorist in (1–2) and the present habitual in (3–4).

- (1) hege-li-li riL’i ik^won...
 DEM-OBL.PL.FN-GEN meat eat.AOR
 [I killed two deer.] ‘I ate their meat...’ (A; *Tales*)

¹In example sources, the first letter stands for the dialect represented: “A” for Andi, “G” for Gagatli, “R” for Rikvani and “Z” for Zilo. “*Tales*” refers to the collection of world fairy tales (Magomedova 2010), and “*Luke*” refers to the translation of the Gospel of Luke. If a text/grammar source is not indicated, the example results from elicitation.

- (2) **ik^won-s:u** den du-j-il boš-ul
eat.AOR-NEG 1SG 2SG-GEN.III.PL-PL offspring-PL
[The wolf says to the goat:] ‘I didn’t eat your kids.’ (A; *Tales*)
- (3) di-<w>o **c’in-no** men i<m> hek’a=bolo!
1SG-AFF<M> know-HAB 2SG who<H> man=Q.INDIR
‘I know who you are!’ (A; *Luke* 4:34)
- (4) di-<w>o he-w **c’in-no-su**, jec:i...
1SG-AFFT<M> DEM-M know-HAB-NEG sister
‘I don’t know him, sister...’ (A; *Luke* 22:57)²

Thus, negation in the Andi verb paradigm is overwhelmingly symmetric in *Miestamo*’s (2005) terms. There are, however, negative verb forms which are not derived from the corresponding affirmative ones by simply adding *-s:u* on the right edge, after the inflectional suffix of the corresponding tense-aspect-mood category. First, in a few non-finite forms *-s:u* precedes the inflectional suffix rather than following it (see §2.4). Second, in two verb forms the negation marker *-s:u* is historically present, but is fused with another marker. The forms in question are the negative future in *-dos:ja* and the prohibitive (negative imperative) in *-dos:ub*, which are not derived from their affirmative counterparts. Historically, they both probably go back to the habitual in *-do*. The affirmative future in *-dja* seems to be derived from the habitual by means of the suffix **-ja*, which ousts the final vowel of the habitual (*-dja* < **-do-ja*). In the negative future, we see the same habitual marker *-do* before the negation marker *-s:u-* (reduced to *-s:-*) and the same suffix **-ja* follows (*-dos:ja* < **-do-s:u-ja*). On the structure of the prohibitive, see §2.2. Both the negative future and the prohibitive display asymmetry of the A/Cat/TAM type, i.e. affecting the marking of tense-aspect-mood (*Miestamo* 2005: 116).

The third exception is different in nature, and is the only source of paradigmatic asymmetry in Andi negation, as the relation between the affirmative form and the negative form here is not one-to-one. In the perfect, which is syncretic with the perfective converb, alongside the expected form in *-s:u* there exists a form involving a special negation marker *-č’igu*, which does not occur elsewhere in the language and is unrelated to *-s:u* historically. This second, “irregular” variant of the negative perfect / perfective converb is produced by adding *-č’igu* directly to the perfective stem, without the perfect ending *-d*, cf. *ruli-d* ‘has said’ ~

²The transliteration of intensive (geminate) consonants in the Gospel of Luke translation is not always consistent, so the negative marker *-s:u* is sometimes written there as *-su*. In examples, I have kept the transliteration as in the original.

HC: @LSP Miestamo should not be hyphenized there, but Miestamo, I was not able to fix that.

ru- č'igu 'hasn't said'. Thus, *-č'igu* simultaneously expresses negation and the corresponding tense-aspect-mood value. On the whole, the "irregular" negative form in *-č'igu* seems to be the neutral one for both the perfect and the perfective converb, while the "regular" one is very marginal. In the available written texts of Andi ("Tales" and "Luke"), the regular form in *-d:u-s:u* is only found 5 times (as opposed to more than 170 occurrences of the form in *-č'igu*), and only in subordinate clauses with the adverbializer *-gu*, i.e. with a general meaning 'without having done' (see §4.6.1)³.

Examples (5–7) illustrate the use of the affirmative and negative future and the affirmative and "irregular" negative perfect.

- (5) den w-uci-dja men=nogu, mijarek'a!
 1SG M-come-FUT 2SG=COM lord
 'I will follow (lit. go with) you, Lord!' (A; *Luke* 9:61)
- (6) den j-ici-dos:ja bis:i-li-k:u se-w-gulo-š:u-j
 1SG F-come-FUT.NEG 2PL-INTER-ELA one-M-INDF-OBL.M-DAT
 'I will not marry (lit. go to) any of you.' (A; *Tales*)
- (7) mašen'ka-di hinc':u t'ik'ešo-d:u- se-w-gulo w-ot'on-č'igu
 Mashenka-ERG door knock-PRF one-M-INDF M-talk-PRF.NEG
 'Mashenka knocked on the door – no one answered.' (A; *Tales*)

As already mentioned in §1, there are no periphrastic forms in Upper Andi with a present-tense copula as auxiliary. There are, however, a few periphrastic constructions employing a regular verb *bik'udu* 'be, become, happen' or *bisidu* 'be, stop, stand'. The latter verb is employed in the Rikvani dialect only with the meaning 'come to a stop, stand', while at least in the Andi, Gagatli and Zilo dialects it has evolved into a more general existential verb, widely used as an auxiliary (see Verhees & Rochant 2017 for details). As an auxiliary it is postposed and preferably occurs in one of the past tenses, e.g. the aorist or the perfect. Most common types of periphrastic constructions are those based on the perfect (perfective converb) or the progressive present form of a lexical verb: the combination of the former with a past tense auxiliary yields a pluperfect ('had done'),

³Kibrik (1985) puts forward a hypothesis on the choice between *-s:u* and *-č'igu* depending on the meaning of the (finite) perfect: he suggests that the regular negation is used with the perfect/resultative meaning of the form, while *-č'igu* appears only with the indirective evidential meaning. However, this conclusion is not supported by the data we have. See also Verhees (2019: 201–209) on the structure and use of the perfective converb (in her terms, general converb) in Andi.

while the combination of the latter with a past tense auxiliary is an imperfect ('was doing, used to do').

When a periphrastic form is negated, in the most neutral case the negation is found on the auxiliary verb, as in (8) with the periphrastic future perfect (perfective converb + 'be' in the future tense) or (9) with the periphrastic past habitual (imperfective participle + 'be' in the perfect tense).

- (8) **b-exuk:u-d:u b-ik'u-dos:ja=bu!**
 IV-be.late-CVB IV-be-FUT.NEG=PTCL
 'There's no hurry!' (lit. 'It won't be late') (A; *Tales*)
- (9) hege-li-di ox:od:oro-l-la-k:u heč'egido-l-lo=gilo
 DEM-OBL.PL.FN-ERG morning-OBL-SUP-ELA at.night-OBL-SUP.LAT=until
 se-b-gulo i-dja **b-ik'^wo-č'igu**
 one-IV-INDF do-IPFV.PTCP IV-be-PRF.NEG
 'They just lounged all day long.' (lit. 'They were not doing anything from morning till night.') (A; *Tales*)

At the same time, the marking of negation on the lexical verb is also attested, as can be seen in examples (10) and (11) with the same constructions: in (10), it is the perfective converb which bears negation, and in (11) it is the imperfective participle.

- (10) ama q'adi šu-b=gu zamana-l-di **razi-li-č'igu** **w-uk'o-d:u**
 but judge good-IV=INTS time-OBL-ERG content-VBZ-CVB.NEG M-be-PRF
 'For some time the judge refused.' (A; *Luke 18:4*)
- (11) amma en-š:u-b=gu ulka-l-L-ol adam-i-⟨w⟩o
 but self-OBL.M-GEN.IV=INTS country-OBL-GEN-PL people-OBL-AFFT<M>
 hege-w **hilu-dosja** **w-uk'o-d:u**
 DEM-M love-IPFV.PTCP.NEG M-be-PRF
 'But his subjects hated him.' (A; *Luke 19:14*)

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

In the formation of the negative imperative (prohibitive) Andi follows a strategy common to most other Nakh-Daghestanian languages in that the prohibitive is not derived directly from the imperative. In Andi, as in Andic languages in general, transitive and intransitive verbs have different imperative forms, the former in *-o* and the latter in *-b*. Intransitive imperatives are derived from the

perfective stem and are syncretic with perfective participles (e.g. the form *bik'o-b* can be both the imperative 'be, become!' and the participle 'which became, which happened'). The prohibitives of transitives and intransitives, meanwhile, are derived uniformly and belong morphologically to the future/imperfective subsystem. Most probably, the prohibitive marker *-dos:ub* is historically derived from the habitual in *-do* followed by the negative *-s:u* and the participial suffix *-b* (*-dos:ub* < **-do-s:u-b*). Thus, the prohibitive of the verb 'be, become' has the form *bik'u-dos:ub*; see also examples in (12).

- (12) *hinc'u arxin-nos:ub, se-w-gulo hinni=lo eld:os:ub*
 door open-PROH one-M-INDF inside=ADD let+PROH
 'Don't open the door, don't let anyone in.' (A; *Tales*)

Both yes/no-questions and wh-questions in Andi employ pairs of question enclitics, one used with the predicate in the aorist and the other with the predicate in any other form (Maisak 2020). In polar questions, the question markers are by default cliticized to the verb, but they can follow the focus of a question in case of narrow (constituent) focus. In wh-questions, the question markers are hosted by the wh-phrase. The use of question markers does not generally influence the marking of negation, cf. a wh-question in (13) with the negative aorist.

- (13) *ei=di bis:i-di č'erL'i-s:u?*
 what<IV>=WH 2PL-ERG divide.AOR-NEG
 'Why are you quarreling?' (lit. 'What haven't you divide among yourselves?') (A; *Tales*)

At the same time, it is common for negative polar questions to be employed with purely rhetorical function, when the speaker is sure that the addressee in fact knows the answer well, and a reply is not expected, cf. (14–16).

- (14) *du-o den c'inni-r s:u=le?*
 2SG-AFFT<III> 1SG know-PROG COP.NEG=Q
 [The mouse asks the lion:] 'Don't you recognize me?' [I am the one whose life you spared.] (A; *Tales*)
- (15) *men mesihi s:u=le?*
 2SG messiah COP.NEG=Q
 [One of the criminals asked:] 'Aren't you the Messiah?' [Save yourself and us!] (A; *Luke 23:39*)

- (16) du-o c'in-no-su=le hila=si-š:u-b-ul amr-odul
 2SG-AFFT<IV> know-HAB-NEG=Q above=ATTR-OBL.M-GEN.IV-PL order-PL
 'Don't you know the commandments of the Lord?' (A; *Luke* 18:20)

This use of negative polar questions is frequent in the translation of the Gospel of Luke, where negative questions are used to translate many sentences which are rendered in the affirmative declarative in e.g. English or Russian versions of the Gospel, as in (17) and (18).

- (17) ja, χ^wažain, hede-š-č'u ho-L'ol=lo hoc'o-gu misidi
 VOC landlord DEM-OBL.M-CNT DEM-MNR=ADD ten-NUM gold
 i=s:u=le
 COP=COP.NEG=Q
 'Sir, he already has (lit. hasn't he?) ten golden coins as it is.' (A; *Luke* 19:25)
- (18) talihi=logu=s-ol s:u=le moč'i ihi-su-b-ul, he-w-ul
 luck=COM=ATTR-PL COP.NEG=Q child do-NEG-PFV.PTCP-PL DEM-M-PL
 w-oχ:ont'i-su-b-ul ješi-l!
 M-suck.CAUS-NEG-PFV.PTCP-PL girl-PL
 'Blessed are (lit. aren't?) the women, that have never bore children and never fed them!' (A; *Luke* 23:29)

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Affirmative stative predications do not behave in a uniform way. Although the affirmative present copula *i* (dialectal variants *ži*, *ži*) occasionally appears in contexts of equation, proper inclusion or attribution, these types of stative predication normally do not include a copula (19–21). On the other hand, in existential, locative and possessive predications the copula is regularly present (22–24).

- (19) hono-w i žuhut'-a-w pač:ahi
 DEM-M COP Jew-OBL.PL-GEN.M king
 'This is the king of the Jews.' (A; *Luke* 23:38)
- (20) hege-w iši-Li mijarek'a
 DEM-M 1PL.EXCL-GEN landlord
 [Domestic animals about Man:] 'He is our owner.' (A; *Tales*)
- (21) den=no ila=lo zolo miskin-ol
 1SG=ADD mother=ADD very poor-PL
 'Me and my mother are very poor.' (G; *Salimov* 2010: 222)

- (22) sor-da-j reč':-obil i, šekm-a-j bešem-il i
fox-OBL.PL-DAT cave-PL COP bird-OBL.PL-DAT nest-PL COP
'For foxes there are holes and for birds there are nests.' (A; *Luke* 9:58)
- (23) di-w wošo armi-l-la i
1SG-GEN.M son army-OBL-SUP.ESS COP
'My son is in the army.' (A; *Alisultanova* 2010: 58)
- (24) di-b č'e-gu mašina ži
1SG-GEN.IV two-NUM car COP
'I have two cars.' (R)

Under negation, the situation is different, as all these types make use of the negative copula *s:u* (identical in form with the standard verbal negation marker, as already mentioned above⁴). Thus, (25) illustrates the context of equation, (26) illustrates attribution, (27) describes location, (28) describes possession and (29) describes existence. There does not seem to be any difference in the negation marking depending on temporary vs. permanent property assignment, or generic vs. specific predicates.

- (25) hajman boc'o s:u
sheep wolf COP.NEG
'A sheep is not a wolf.' (A; *Tales*)
- (26) iš:il he-w-ul=G^{wa} burt'-ol s:u
1PL.EXCL DEM-M-PL=DEGR rich-PL COP.NEG
'We are not so rich as they are.' (A; *Tales*)
- (27) ho-ɬ:u hege-w s:u. hege-w w-uč'o-b-ɬu-k:u w-uč':i
DEM-LOC DEM-M COP.NEG DEM-M M-die-PFV.PTCP-LOC-ELA M-rise.AOR
'He is not here; he has risen (lit. from where he died).' (A; *Luke* 24:6)
- (28) hono-w moč'i-š:u-r χuča s:u
DEM-M child-OBL.M-GEN.V book COP.NEG
'This boy doesn't have a book.' (R)

⁴The situation when a standard negation marker and a negative existential are formally identical, but one is a free form and the other is bound, is not unique cross-linguistically, see (*Veselinova* 2013b: 113–114) on the Dravidian language Kannada. Cases of such morphological difference are not very numerous in the languages of the world, e.g. in *Veselinova's* (2013b: 116) sample of 95 languages there are only 4 languages that demonstrate this type of syncretism; at the same time, they all belong to different genealogical stocks.

- (29) *insan-š:-č'u s:ihir dan se-b-gulo s:u!*
 person-OBL.M-CNT sly thing one-IV-INDF COP.NEG
 'There is no one as sly as Man!' (A; *Tales*)

From the negative copula *s:u* a participle *s:u-b* is derived, see (30). The corresponding converbial function can be fulfilled by the form *s:u-gu*, featuring the regular adverbializer *-gu*. The form *s:u-gu* is also found in contexts of exclusion ('except for', 'only'), see §4.6.1.

- (30) *di-č'u soru s:u-b hek'a*
 1SG-CNT together COP.NEG-PTCP man
 'Whoever is not with me [is against me].' (lit. 'The man who is not with me.') (A; *Luke* 11:23)

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

As in Nakh-Daghestanian languages in general, complementation and subordination in Andi involves the use of non-finite forms – converbs, participles, the infinitive and the action nominal traditionally labelled “masdar”. All of these forms employ the standard negator *-s:u*. The only exception is the perfective converb, which is syncretic with the finite perfect tense; although a standard negative form does exist, this generally uses the special negative morpheme *-č'igu* discussed in §2.1 above, cf. (31) with a converbial dependent clause expressing temporal precedence.

- (31) *hila=si-š:u-b pač:ahi-łir [adam-i-čb>o*
 above=ATTR-OBL.M-GEN.IV king-ABSTR people-OBL-AFFT<IV>
haco-č'igu] b-igi-dja
 see-CVB.NEG IV-come-FUT
 'The kingdom of God will come unseen by the people (lit. without the people having seen it).' (A; *Luke* 17:20)

There are two dedicated participle forms: the perfective participle in *-b* (which happens to be syncretic with the imperative of intransitive verbs) and the imperfective participle in *-dja* (which is syncretic with the future tense). While the latter has an irregular negative form marker *-dos:ja* identical to that of the future (see §2.1 above), in the perfective participle the negator *-s:u* precedes the participial suffix rather than following it, cf. *haco-b* '(the one) that saw' ~ *haco-s:u-b* '(the one) that didn't see'. Examples (32) and (33) show the use of participles in prenominal relative clauses.

- (32) [...] hit'on-d:u [onš:i-gulo b-it'i- b-it'i boc'o=gu **hago-s:u-b**]
 say-PRF once-INDF III-alive III-alive wolf=INTS see-NEG-PFV.PTCP
 nuf-nuf-o-di=lo
 Nuf-Nuf-OBL-ERG=ADD
 '[...] said Nuf-Nuf, who had never seen a living wolf.' (A; *Tales*)
- (33) [dunja-l-la q'ir=lo **b-ižun-nos:ja**] rihi
 world-OBL-SUP.ESS corn=ADD IV-grow-IPFV.PTCP.NEG time
 'In the times when rice didn't yet grow on earth' (A; *Tales*)

The conditional form in *-bor*, which is historically derived from the perfective participle, has the same position for the negative suffix before the conditional mood suffix⁵, cf. *bik'o-bor* 'if (it) is' ~ *bik'o-s:u-bor* 'if (it) is not', see also (34).

- (34) di-b t'alab **t'obannoli-s:u-bor**, du-č'u
 1SG-GEN.IV demand be.fulfilled.CAUS-NEG-COND 2SG-CNT
 gal-la mijar=lo r-ik'u-dos:ja
 shoulder-SUP.ESS head=ADD V-be-FUT.NEG
 'If you do not satisfy my requirement, it will cost you dear.' (lit. 'your head won't remain on your shoulders') (A; *Tales*)

Another non-finite form with the same placement of a negator before the inflectional marker is the verbal noun ("masdar") in *-r*, cf. *bik'o-r* 'being, existence' ~ *bik'o-s:u-r* 'not being, non-existence'. The use of the masdar, which inflects for case and number like a regular noun, can be seen in (35).

- (35) tawbu i-du b-uk:u-dosja hoč'oc'o=lo hoč'o-gu
 repentance do-INF IV-need-IPFV.PTCP.NEG ninety=ADD nine-NUM
 mu?min **w-uk'o-su-r-o-qi**, se-w q'osuni-w
 faithful M-be-NEG-MSD-OBL-APUD one-M sinner-M
kant'uni-r-o-č'u-k:u
 repent-MSD-OBL-CNT-ELA
 '[There will be more rejoicing in heaven] over one sinner's repentance
 than over the ninety-nine righteous persons who do not need to repent.'
 (A; *Luke 15:7*)

⁵Conditional forms (the ones used in protases of conditional sentences) are traditionally described in Nakh-Daghestanian languages as belonging to the group of specialized converbs, as they are almost totally restricted to subordinate clauses.

Unlike the perfective participle and the masdar, the negative infinitive is derived from its affirmative counterpart in the same way as negative finite forms are derived, i.e. by placing the negator on the right edge, cf. *bik'u-du* 'to be(come)' ~ *bik'u-du-s:u* 'not to be(come)'. The infinitive is employed both in purpose clauses, as in (36), and in complements of complement-taking verbs like 'can, be able', 'want' or 'need'.

- (36) [...] he-lu-di men kodi w-uḡi-dja, hinc'o-l-č'u=cin
 DEM-OBL.PL.M-ERG 2SG in.hand.LAT M-take-FUT stone-OBL-CNT=PTCL
 du-b čuk'a tunkun-nu-su
 2SG-GEN.IV leg strike-INF-NEG
 '[...] they will lift you up in their hands, so that you will not strike your
 foot against a stone.' (A; *Luke* 4:11)

Besides the perfective converb described above, there are a number of other forms which can head adverbial clauses, and which are derived from various finite verb forms by means of the adverbializer *-gu*, often in combination with the emphatic clitic *=ža*, i.e. *-guža*. In all these cases, negative counterparts are derived as in finite verb forms, with *-gu(ža)* following the negated finite form (Maisak 2022). (37) illustrates the use of an adverbialized negative future heading a preposed subordinate clause.

- (37) [he-ldu se-r t'iri i-du **berel-losja=gu=ža**],
 DEM-MNR one-V a.little do-INF can-FUT.NEG=ADVZ=EMPH
 sebu-se-b-ul=lo hok'or-ol dan-ol i-du w-uḡin-nu
 RED:one-IV-PL=ADD heavy-PL thing-PL do-INF M-PL.get.down-INF
 w-uk'u-dja=le bis:il?
 M-PL.need-FUT=Q 2PL
 'Since you cannot do this very little thing, why do you worry about the
 rest?' (A; *Luke* 12:26)

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Andi does not seem to have any true negative lexicalizations. As a phenomenon partly resembling a negative lexicalization, one can mention the use of the verb *ɫidu* 'become; be possible' in the negative future *ɫidos:ja* (or *ɫidos:a*), with the meaning '(it is) impossible', '(one) may not'. This verb can be employed with the inchoative meaning 'become', in particular as a light verb in intransitive deadjectival complex verbs such as *razi-ɫi* 'agreed' (< *razi* 'content, accepting'), *baku-ɫi*

‘became beautiful’ (< *baru* ‘beautiful’) etc.; see Rochant (2018: 116–125) for details. The same verb is used as a possibilitive modal, taking a complement clause headed by the infinitive. With the modal meaning, the verb mostly occurs in the future tense⁶, i.e. *tidja* ‘can, may’ and *tidos:ja* ‘cannot, may not’ in the negative, cf. (38). The negative form *tidos:ja* alone can be used as a semi-lexicalized modal word ‘(it is) impossible’, ‘(it is) not allowed’, as in the Bear’s answer to Mashenka’s question in (39). Salimov (2010) even includes both *tidja* ‘(one) may’ and *tidos:a* ‘(one) may not’ (Russian *možno* and *nel’zja*) in his Andi–Russian lexicon. Such impersonal use is, apparently, completely in line with the modal semantics of *tidu*. Note also that the sense ‘cannot, be unable’ is a cross-linguistically common negative lexicalization (the fourth most common in Veselinova’s (2013a) variety sample of 105 languages).

- (38) iš:i-di imperator-šu-j naluki ič:i-du *ti-dja*=le jagi
 1PL.EXCL-ERG emperor-OBL.M-DAT tax five-INF become-FUT=Q or
ti-dos:a=le?
 become-FUT.NEG=Q
 ‘Are we to pay taxes to the Emperor or not?’ (A; *Luke* 20:22)

- (39) A: [Oh Bear, let me go and see my grandparents.]
 B: *ti-dos:ja*, men reš:-Li j-it’u-dja
 become-FUT.NEG 2SG forest-INTER F-get.lost-FUT
 ‘No (lit. may not), you will get lost in the woods [said Bear].’ (A; *Tales*)

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions: the ‘not-yet’ tense

Andi possesses a remarkable case of a ‘not-yet’ grammaticalization in the verbal domain, namely the verb form we label “counterexpectation present” or ‘still not’ present (see Maisak 2018 and Maisak & Verhees 2024 for a more detailed account). In isolated usage, the form in *-david* listed in Table 1 seems to have a negative meaning by itself, without any negation marker: that is, forms like *rul-david* (from the verb ‘say’) tend to be translated simply as ‘doesn’t say’. This form has a regular negative equivalent in *-s:u*, whose meaning is (as might be expected) affirmative, e.g. *rul-david-s:u* ‘says’, or more precisely ‘it’s not true that s/he doesn’t say’, see also (40).

⁶The use of the verb ‘become’ as a possibilitive modal with an infinitival complement, and the preference for the future tense in modal function, are not exclusive to Andi, but are common to many other Nakh-Daghestanian languages.

- (40) *musa-d woc:-u-l'o kakar q^war-david-s:u*
 Musa-ERG brother-OBL-SUP.LAT letter write-CNTE.PRS-NEG
 ‘Musa is indeed writing his brother a letter.’ (In reply to another speaker who doubts that this is the case.) (R)

However, it becomes clear from other examples that the form *-david* does not simply express negative meaning, but signals counterexpectation on the part of the speaker – the correct translation of *rul-david* would be not just ‘doesn’t say’, but rather ‘s/he still doesn’t say, although I expected him/her to’, see (41) and (42).

- (41) *anzi r-el-david*
 snow V-go-CNTE.PRS
 ‘It still isn’t snowing [even though it is already January].’ (R)
- (42) *djo hege-b c'in-naid*
 1SG.AFFT DEM-IV know-CNTE.PRS
 ‘I still don’t quite understand that [although you have explained it to me].’ (R)

Such a dedicated verb form with counterexpectation meaning is not typical of the languages of the family, and functionally resembles ‘not-yet’ tenses in Africa, also known under the labels *tardative* (Plungian 1999: 319) or *nondum* (Veselinova & Devos 2021). Cross-dialectal comparison helps to see that the Andi counterexpectation present, which is morphologically bound in most dialects (cf. the Rikvani suffix *-david*, the Andi/Gagatli suffix *-david:u*), probably originated in a periphrastic construction with an auxiliary **b-abi*, with a gender agreement prefix. In the Zilo dialect, the form is less morphologized, and its underlying structure is “habitual in *-e* + auxiliary verb *b-abi*” (43). In the other dialects, the original structure “habitual in *-do* + auxiliary verb *b-avid(:u)*” must have fused into a single morpheme *-david(:u)*, dropping the gender marker.

- (43) *he-w k'amm-e-b-aɣij*
 DEM-M eat-HAB-IV-CNTE.PRS
 ‘He does not [want to] eat.’ (Z)

The form of the auxiliary verb in the counterexpectation present, i.e. *-david* / *-david:u* in most dialects, and *-b-aɣij* in Zilo, is the perfect in *-d* / *-d:u* / *-j* which in Andi also has resultative meaning expressing a current state (e.g. ‘is sitting’ or ‘is standing’ is expressed with the resultative form of the verbs ‘sit down’ and

‘come to a stop’, respectively). Although attested almost exclusively in the perfect/resultative form, the counterexpectation present auxiliary can also appear in the unmarked aorist (perfective past). The meaning of such forms is something like a “counterexpectation aorist”, i.e. ‘did not do (as expected)’. Thus, in (44) the “counterexpectation aorist” (44a) is close in meaning to the negative aorist (44b).

- (44) a. sun wošu-d ruli-b ži-daḱi
 yesterday boy-ERG say-PFV.PTCP do-CNTE.AOR
 b. sun wošu-d ruli-b žij-s:u
 yesterday boy-ERG say-PFV.PTCP do.AOR-NEG
 ‘Yesterday, the boy did not do what (he) was told.’ (R)

The original meaning of the auxiliary verb *b-abi* is not clear. In modern Andi, this stem is used as a lexical verb only with the meaning ‘get tired’. So, either ‘get tired’ was indeed the grammaticalization source, or else the verb has changed its original semantics, which remains unknown. Comparison with the other Andic languages does not help much, as cognate lexical verbs seem to be lacking, except in Bagvalal, where a rare verb *b-abi* is attested with the meaning ‘resist, refrain from doing’ (45). For details on possible cognates among the negation markers of the Andic languages, see Maisak & Verhees (2024).

- (45) kʷan-di haddiṭir qʷerlʷeri din b-ihī-ra
 Kvanada-PL long.while struggle.AOR religion N-take-IPFV.INF
 b-abi-o
 N-resist-CVB.PFV<N>
 ‘The people from Kvanada struggled for a long time, refusing to accept the religion.’ (Bagvalal; Kibrik et al. 2001: 732)

Although I am not aware of any Daghestanian grammaticalizations involving an “inherently negative” verb like ‘resist, refuse’ (or ‘be tired’), the development itself looks semantically plausible. According to Givón (2001: 382–383), “inherently negative modality verbs such as ‘fail’, ‘lack’, ‘refuse’, ‘decline’, or ‘avoid’ commonly grammaticalize as negation markers”, as “their more specific semantic features are bleached out, leaving only their negative inference”. For a detailed recent study of the functions and the origin of ‘not yet’ expressions in Bantu languages, see Veselinova & Devos (2021).

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

The positive reply to a polar question is *hun* ‘yes’⁷; in the available written corpus this word is very rare and only attested as *hu*. As a negative reply, the negative copula *s:u* can be used (46), which is a very common function of negative existentials worldwide (Veselinova 2013b: 118, 139). Even more common is a negative reply *huns:u* ‘no’ which, quite remarkably, represents the fusion of both ‘yes’ and ‘no’, see (47). Both negative replies negate the propositional content (rather than disagree with the polarity of the question).

(46) A: [Do you think I came to bring peace on earth?]

B: hit’o-mado bis:i-qi, s:u, den w-ugo bis:il
 say-PROG 2PL-APUD COP.NEG 1SG M-COME.AOR 2PL
 sonso-č’u-k:u bat’-ol-i-du
 each.other-CNT-ELA separate-PL-FACT-INF
 ‘No, I tell you, I came to divide you.’ (A; *Luke* 12:51)

(47) A: [We ask for your hand!]

B: hun=s:u, he-b s:u=b-iḱi di-j hažatib dan
 yes=COP.NEG DEM-IV COP.NEG=IV-AUX.AOR 1SG-DAT necessary thing
 ‘No, this was not⁸ what I needed.’ (A; *Tales*)

In Dirr’s (1906) texts, a negative expression *haj joχ* ‘no’ is used several times as a negative reply, which seems to include the Turkic negative reply *joχ*. In modern texts, there is also a particle *aj* attested as a form of negative reply, cf. (48), which, however, remains an isolated example. Salimov (2010: 245) describes the meaning of *aj* as ‘not to do anything’.

(48) A: [Open the door, or I’ll break it! said the Wolf.]

B: aj, den arχin-nosja!
 NEG.PTCL 1SG open-FUT.NEG
 ‘No, I won’t open!’ [said the piglet.] (A; *Tales*)

⁷Or rather *hū*, with a nasalized vowel (see also Dirr 1906: 130; Salimov 2010: 12).

⁸In the Andi dialect, *s:u* can be combined with the past tense auxiliary verb *b-iḱi* to express past meaning (‘was not’).

On the whole, one gets the impression that negative replies employing particles are rarely found in texts (even in dialogues), and that it is rather the negative verb form which is preferably used in such contexts, as in (49). The same is true of the affirmative reply *hu(n)*: according to my consultants, it is not very felicitous to use ‘yes’ as a reply to a question like ‘Did you do it?’ – normally, the reply will include just a verb form (e.g. ‘Did’).

- (49) A: [Do you think they were more guilty than all the others living in Jerusalem?]
 B: hit’o-mado bis:i-qi, w-ok’o-su=Ꞥod:u
 say-PROG 2PL-APUD M-PL.be.AOR-NEG=QUOT
 ‘I tell you, they were not!’ (A; *Luke* 13:5)

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Negative indefinites are derived by means of a suffix *-gulo*, which is a lexicalized combination of an intensifying clitic =*gu* and an additive clitic =*lo* ‘also, even’⁹. Besides being a marker of negative indefinites, *gulo* can be also used as an emphatic particle, see §4.6.2 for an example.

The most frequent negative indefinite pronoun is *se-w-gulo* (*se-b-gulo*, etc.) ‘no one, nothing’ based on the numeral *se-w* ‘one’, with a final gender agreement suffix. This pronoun can be used both attributively and as an NP head, in the latter case it inflects for case and number (the absolutive case is unmarked, and the other case forms are derived from an oblique stem). Case/number inflection follows *-gulo*, which confirms its status as a suffix rather than a clitic. Negative indefinites in *-gulo* occur together with clausal negation. In (50), *sewgulo* is a modifier (‘no man’), in (51) and also (7), (9), (12) and (29) above it occurs in the unmarked absolutive form (‘no one, nothing’), and in (6) above it occurs in the dative (‘to no one’) heading an NP in an argument position.

- (50) se-w-gulo hek’a q’int’i-dosub bis:i-di
 one-M-INDF man press-PROH 2PL-ERG
 ‘Don’t extort money from any man.’ (A; *Luke* 3:14)
- (51) amma hege-lu-⟨b⟩o se-b-gulo bič’:uni-su=Ꞥodi
 but DEM-OBL.PL.M-AFFT<IV> one-IV-INDF understand.AOR-NEG=REP
 ‘But they did not understand anything.’ (A; *Luke* 18:34)

⁹For a description of the range of functions typically associated with intensifying markers, see Forker (2015) on the Avar enclitic *go* which is a close equivalent, and a cognate, of the Andi *gu*. See also Forker (2016) on the semantic typology of additives.

Although in the overwhelming majority of examples *sebgulo* is found in negative clauses, it is possible to use it outside negative contexts as well, e.g. in questions. In (52) the sentence includes several conjoined dependent clauses with negative converbs, but there is no negation in the main clause ('did you lack anything?'). Thus, in Haspelmath's (1997: 199) terms, *sebgulo* would be a negative indefinite pronoun "in the deliberately vague sense 'indefinite pronoun that has "direct negation" as an important function'".

- (52) ja orsi b-ik'ol-d:u tarha b-iχi-č'igu, ja q'aj
 or money IV-be.CAUS-CVB wallet IV-take-CVB.NEG or belongings
 b-ik'ol-d:u q'^wač'a r-iχi-č'igu, ja b-eršol-d:u
 IV-be.CAUS-CVB sack v-take-CVB.NEG or IV-change.CAUS-CVB
 b-oli-du nasil-ol b-oχi-č'igu, bis:il den-ni w-olelta-b
 IV-put.on-INF shoe-PL IV-PL.take-CVB.NEG 2PL 1SG-ERG M-let-PFV.PTCP
 rihi, **se-b-gulo** kami b-ik'o=de bis:i-j?
 time one-IV-INDF lacking IV-be.AOR=Q 2PL-DAT
 'When I sent you without having taken a purse, without a bag with your
 things, without shoes to wear, did you lack anything?' (A; Luke 22:35)

It is not only the numeral 'one' from which a negative/indefinite pronoun can be derived by means of *-gulo*, see (53)–(55). Thus, Salimov (2010) mentions in his dictionary such interrogative-based derivatives as *inu-gulo* 'anywhere' (< *inu* 'where?'), *i<w>a-gulo* 'to anywhere' (< *i<w>a* 'where to?', with a gender agreement infix), *inna-gulo* 'always' (< *inna* 'when?'), *il'ol-gulo* 'because' (< *il'ol* 'why?'), cf. also *čom-gulo* 'some' (< *čom* 'how many?'). *Onš:i-gulo* 'never' is derived from an adverb *onš:i* 'once'.

- (53) di-b burt'a-lir **inna-gulo** di-č'u soru
 1SG-GEN.IV rich-ABSTR when-INDF 1SG-CNT together
 'My wealth is always with me.' (A; Tales)
- (54) naf-naf ho-r **čom-gulo** zubu en-Li=gu milki-l-č'u
 Naf-Naf DEM-V some-INDF day self.FN-GEN=INTS house-OBL-CNT
 b-eqi-du b-ik'^wo-d:u
 III-reach-INF III-be-PRF
 'Naf-Naf had been busy building his house for a few days already.' (A; Tales)
- (55) hege-l-č'u reχudu min **onš:i-gulo** b-ič'i-dos:ja!
 DEM-OBL.FN-CNT after 2SG once-INDF III-die-FUT.NEG
 'After that you will never die!' (A; Tales)

Within Haspelmath's (1997: Ch.8, 2013) typology of indefinite and negative pronouns, the series of pronouns in *-gulo* are "interrogative-based negative indefinites" which co-occur with predicate negation (both the interrogative-based structure and the co-occurrence with predicate negation are the most cross-linguistically common values). There is also another interrogative-based series of indefinites in Andi derived by means of the marker *-bolo* (*-bollo*) which represents a concessive mood ending: the concessive is derived from the conditional in *-bor* by means of the additive *=lo* 'also, even', which assimilates /r/ (i.e. *bolo* < *bollo* < **bor=lo* [COND=ADD]). Indefinites in *-bolo* generally correspond to the English *some*-series pronouns, e.g. *im-molo* 'someone', *ib-bolo* 'something', *čom-bolo* 'some amount', *inna-bolo* 'at some time', etc. Concessive forms of auxiliary verbs 'become' and 'be', i.e. *libollo* and *bik'obollo*, can also be used to form indefinite phrases. The series of indefinites in *-bolo* (*-bollo*) represents what is usually known as "ordinary indefinites" (i.e. not negative, not free-choice and not specific indefinites), and is not used in direct negation contexts.

3.3 Negative derivation and the caritive meaning

The meaning 'without' can be expressed by a dedicated particle *ti*, or by constructions involving the participle of the negative copula/existential verb *s:u*, i.e. *s:u-b*. Among the Andi particles, Salimov (2010: 216) even lists *s:ub* and *tigu* as "negative particles", giving the following illustrations:

- (56) *me=s:u-b* *dunjal, miłi=s:u-b* *bič:in*
 2SG=COP.NEG-PTCP world sun=COP.NEG-PTCP shadow.side
 'A world without you [is] a mountainside without sunshine.' (G; Salimov 2010: 216)

- (57) *hede-w men=ti-gu* *w-ugo*
 DEM-M 2SG=CAR-ADVZ M-come.AOR
 'He came without you.' (G; Salimov 2010: 216)

As for (56), *s:ub* here is not a particle but a participial form of the copula, heading relative clauses, namely '(a world) that does not have you' and '(a mountainside) that does not have the sun', see also example (30) above. The caritive meaning here is thus expressed by means of a standard syntactic construction, not by a dedicated marker. Note that, according to Veselinova (2013b: 118), the use "as a pre-/postposition meaning 'without' or as a privative marker" is one of the common cross-linguistic functions of negative existentials.

In contrast, *ti* (in example (57), with the adverbializer) is a dedicated caritive enclitic or function word, which does not have any other uses.¹⁰ It is hosted by noun phrases, and is used with the adverbializer when it heads an adverbial clause, as in (57) and also in (58) below. The only example of *ti* attested (in texts) without the adverbializer (59) seems to represent use in a secondary predication ‘more dead than alive’ (lit. ‘being neither dead nor alive’).

- (58) iš:i-w-ul=gu saldat-ol **ti-gu** iš:i-o
 1PL.EXCL-GEN.M-PL=INTS soldier-PL CAR-ADVZ 1PL.EXCL-AFFT<IV>
 se-b-gulo i-du bild:os:ja
 one-IV-INDF do-INF can+FUT.NEG
 ‘We cannot do anything without our soldiers.’ (A; *Tales*)
- (59) nif-nif=lo nuf-nuf=lo hege-b zaman j-it’-ol-gu=lo **ti**,
 Nif-Nif=ADD Nuf-Nuf=ADD DEM-IV time III.PL-alive-PL-ADVZ=ADD CAR
 j-oč’o-d:u=lo **ti** naf-naf-o-li milki-l-χo helli-d:u
 III.PL-PL.die-CVB=ADD CAR Naf-Naf-OBL-GEN house-OBL-AD.LAT run-CVB
 j-eqo-d:u
 III.PL-reach-PRF
 ‘And Nif-Nif and Nuf-Nuf, who were then more dead than alive, ran to
 Naf-Naf’s house.’ (A; *Tales*)

Thus, the caritive meaning in Andi is expressed by means of syntactic constructions rather than morphologically: as an attribute ‘which does not have’, this is a participial clause headed by *sub*, and as an adverbial ‘without having’, this is a clause headed by *ti(gu)*. There are no dedicated derivational affixes with the caritive or related meanings.

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Specification of the scope of negation can be achieved by negating a particular constituent, and not the main predicate. Thus, while in (60a) we have a standard

¹⁰It is unclear whether *ti* is a clitic or an autonomous function word: it is written together with its host in the single example by Salimov (2010), but always separately in the *Tales* and the *Gospel of Luke*. Interestingly, Salimov (2010: 361) also includes *tigu* as a separate lexical entry in the dictionary appended to his grammar sketch. Note that the caritive *ti* is unrelated to the comitative, which is =*logu*, an enclitic which represents the fusion of the additive marker =*lo* and the adverbializer -*gu*.

negative copular clause with a negative copula ('shouldn't'), in (60b) the focus of negation is on the dependent clause, so it is the infinitive as the head of a complement that bears negation ('not to speak').

- (60) a. ruL-du hažat s:u
 say-INF necessary COP.NEG
 'One shouldn't talk.' (R)
- b. ruL-du-s:u hažat
 say-INF-NEG necessary
 'One should keep silence (lit. not-talk).' (R)

Constituent negation on a non-verbal constituent can be also marked with *s:u*.¹¹ Thus, (61a) illustrates standard clausal negation, (61b) shows that the agent NP in the scope of negation hosts *s:u*, and in (61c) it is the patient NP which is in the scope of negation and hosts *s:u*.

- (61) a. imu-d riL' b-iχi-s:u
 father-ERG meat IV-take.AOR-NEG
 'Father didn't buy meat.' (R)
- b. [imu-d]=s:u riL' b-iχi, ilu-L woc:u-d
 father-ERG=NEG meat IV-take.AOR mother-GEN brother-ERG
 'It was not father who bought meat, but mother's brother.' (R)
- c. imu-d [riL']=s:u b-iχi, LuLa r-iχi
 father-ERG meat=NEG IV-take.AOR butter V-take.AOR
 'It was not meat that father bought, but butter.' (R)

A particle *=ža* can be optionally added in the assertive part to emphasize the correct alternative, as in (62–63). Judging from its typical uses in other contexts, *=ža* can be tentatively labelled the marker of "uncontroversial information" (in the sense of Panov (2020)).

- (62) den χ:uča q^war-rado-s:u, r-aL'-rado(=ža)
 1SG book write-PROG-NEG V-read-PROG=PTCL
 'I am not writing a book, I am reading one.' (R)
- (63) den χ:uča=s:ub, kazjat(=ža) b-aL'-rado
 1SG book=NEG newspaper=PTCL IV-read-PROG
 'I am not reading a book, (but) a newspaper.' (R)

¹¹In Rikvani, the use of *s:ub* (originally, the participial copula form) is also attested in constituent focus marking, see (63) below.

The question arises whether in (61b) and (61c) *s:u* is just “the same” negator as occurs in (61a) on the verb, but simply “moved” to a focused constituent. This is a natural assumption given that focus marking by means of predicative elements, including copulas, is a common strategy in Nakh-Daghestanian languages, including those of the Andic branch (see [Kazenin 2003](#), [Kalinina & Sumbatova 2007](#), [Semënova 2014](#) and [Maisak 2023](#) for details). Consider the two pairs of examples from Bagvalal, another Andic language. In (64a) and (65a) with the affirmative and the negative periphrastic perfect, the auxiliary verb (copula) is placed in the default position after the lexical verb. In (64b) and (65b), the auxiliary appears after the subject NP which is in focus. Thus, in the affirmative and the negative clauses the focus marking strategy is absolutely identical.

(64) Bagvalal (Avar-Andic, Nakh-Daghestanian)

- a. maḥammad w-a-⟨w⟩o ekʷa
Muhammad M-come-CVB.PFV<M> COP
‘Muhammad came.’ ([Kibrik et al. 2001](#): 683)
- b. [maḥammad] ekʷa w-a-⟨w⟩o
Muhammad COP M-come-CVB.PFV<M>
‘It was Muhammad who came.’ ([Kibrik et al. 2001](#): 683)

(65) Bagvalal (Avar-Andic, Nakh-Daghestanian)

- a. maḥammad w-a-⟨w⟩o wečʷe
Muhammad M-come-CVB.PFV<M> COP.NEG
‘Muhammad didn’t come.’ ([Kibrik et al. 2001](#): 683)
- b. [maḥammad] wečʷe w-a-⟨w⟩o
Muhammad COP.NEG M-come-CVB.PFV<M>
‘It was not Muhammad who came.’ ([Kibrik et al. 2001](#): 683)

As mentioned above, in Upper Andi the copula does not occur in periphrastic forms, so focus constructions comparable to those in Bagvalal do not exist. It may be, however, that the mechanism of constituent focusing by means of copula placement is only applicable under negation. In this case, what we see in (61b–61c) could be interpreted as focus marking by means of a negative copula, as in (64b) and (65b) from Bagvalal. Still, it is not the case that in examples like (61b–61c) the Andi negative marker *s:u* simply changes its linear position. It is possible to have *-s:u* both on the verb and on the focused constituent in those cases when, e.g., the speaker focuses the lack of involvement of a certain participant in the situation. Thus, in (66) the idea that the speaker does not talk is being rejected: what is being asserted is that it is the addressee who does not do this.

- (66) den=s:u rul-rado-s:u, men
 1SG=NEG say-PROG-NEG 2SG
 ‘It is not me who isn’t talking, (but) you.’

While the latter example was constructed by me and approved by a native speaker, not all speakers accept sentences with two *s:u* markers, one as constituent negation and the other as verbal negation. At the same time, such examples can be produced during elicitation by Andi speakers themselves, cf. (67) suggested as the translation (from a Russian stimulus) for ‘It was not the father who did not come, but the brother’. Although I do not propose any final decision on the status of *s:u* as a constituent negator, it seems highly dubious that *s:u* on an NP can be analysed simply as the result of a “mobile” verb negator shifting to a new location. Note, for example, that in (67) the perfect verb form does not make use of the standard negator *s:u* at all (see also §4.6.3 for further discussion).

- (67) ima=s:u w-ugo-č’igu, woc:
 father=NEG M-come-PRF.NEG brother
 ‘It was not the father who did not come, (but) the brother.’

4.2 Negative polarity

With the exception of negative indefinites in *-gulo* (see 50–52 in §3.2) and probably also the reinforcing element *t’iri* (see 73–74 in §4.4), no negative polarity items have been identified.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

There are no effects of negation on case marking, nor on any other types of marking of NPs.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

There seem to be no special grammatical means for reinforcing negation. In constituent negation constructions, contrastive negation can be expressed by changing the linear position of the negative marker *s:u*, as shown in §4.1.

Negated sentences can be made emphatic by means of the intensifying clitic *=gu*, as in (68) with the negative aorist and (69) with the negative future. As shown in (70) with the negative perfective converb, the emphatic use of *=gu* is also possible on subordinate clauses. In general, however, the emphatic use of *=gu* is not restricted to negative contexts, and it can occur in affirmative clauses as well.

- (68) di-b χoj b-ik'o=**gu**=s:u
 1SG-GEN.III dog III-be.AOR=INTS=NEG
 'I had no dog at all.' (R)
- (69) iš:-l'o s:e-b-gulo rul-do<**gu**>s:ja
 1PL.EXCL-SUP.LAT one-IV-INDF say-FUT.NEG<INTS>
 'He won't tell us anything at all.' (R)
- (70) [...] halt'unni-r j-ik'^wo-d:u lek'u šanni=**gu**=č'igu
 work-PROG F-be-PRF more take.rest=INTS=CVB.NEG
 '[...] she was working hard, without even taking a rest.' (A; *Tales*)

The additive clitic is also employed in contexts of emphatic negation, where it regularly expresses the scalar meaning 'even', see (71) which is functionally similar to (70) above. In (72), the meaning 'not a single one' is rendered by using both the numeral 'one' and the additive clitic. In affirmative contexts, the meaning of the additive can be both additive proper ('and, also', see §4.5) and scalar emphatic ('even').

- (71) [...] amma hede-b hege-li-lo=χ:ard:u harč'on=**no**=č'igu
 but DEM-III DEM-OBL.PL.FN-SUP.LAT=towards look=ADD=PRF.NEG
 '[...] but he didn't even look back at them.' (A; *Tales*)
- (72) men-ni di-j se-b c'ek'ir=ga=**lo** ič:i-su...
 2SG-ERG 1SG-DAT one-III goat=DEGR=ADD give.AOR-NEG
 'Yet you never gave me even a young goat...' (A; *Luke 15:29*)

Note that with negative verb forms, both =*lo* and =*gu* behave as endoclitics, being placed word-internally (see §4.6.3 for discussion).

One more construction employed in contexts of reinforcing negation includes the word *t'iri*, originally a noun meaning 'spatter, drop' according to Salimov's (2010: 365) lexical materials. In all examples attested in texts, *t'iri* in the reinforcing function is accompanied by the additive clitic, as in (73–74). The reinforcing use of *t'iri* seems to be restricted to negative clauses.

- (73) amma hege-b **t'iri**=lo sir-du dan b-ik'^wo-č'igu en-Li=gu
 but DEM-IV drop=ADD fear-INF thing IV-be-PRF.NEG self.FN-GEN=INTS
 hinc'o-l-Li milki-l-č'u hinu
 stone-OBL-GEN house-OBL-CNT inside
 'But they had nothing to fear (lit. not a thing to fear even a drop) in his stone house.' (A; *Tales*)

- (74) hinžerlja kunt'a t'iri=lo hege-l-la razi
 this.time husband drop=ADD DEM-OBL.FN-SUP.ESS content
 li-č'igu
 become-PRF.NEG
 'This time the husband was not content at all (lit. not a drop).' (A; *Tales*)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Finite coordination strategies, whether with affirmative or negative predicates, are rarely used in Andi, where non-finite constructions are much more prominent. Finite clauses, affirmative as well as negative, can be conjoined symmetrically by means of the additive clitic =lo 'and, also', which is not a coordinating device as such, as it can occur with a single constituent as well. With negative verb forms, =lo is placed word-internally as an endoclititic, before the negation marker, as in (75) (see §4.6.3).

- (75) c':a-do=lo=s:u, k'amm-o=lo=s:u
 drink-HAB=ADD=NEG eat-HAB=ADD=NEG
 'He neither drinks nor eats.' (R)

There is a double phrase-initial conjunction *ja... ja* (an Arabic loan found in many Nakh-Daghestanian languages) which is used with the meaning 'either... or' in affirmative sentences, and 'neither... nor' in negative ones, as in (76). Like the additive, the disjunctive *ja... ja* is not exclusively a clausal conjunction, as it can combine with NPs as well. The two devices are also mutually compatible, cf. (77) where *ja... ja* is employed clause-initially, and the additive is placed on the two NPs in the two contrasted clauses.

- (76) ja dan-a-di b-ic'i-b ust'ol s:u, ja r-ik^wok^wo
 or thing-OBL.PL-ERG IV-be.filled-PFV.PTCP table COP.NEG or V-burn.PTCP
 c'a s:u haq'u-la
 fire COP.NEG house-IN.ESS
 'In the house there is neither a table set (for guests), nor a fire burning (in the fireplace).' (A; *Tales*)
- (77) ja hila=si-š-č'u-k:u=lo sir-do-su den, ja
 or above=ATTR-OBL.M-CNT-ELA=ADD fear-HAB-NEG 1SG or
 adam-č'u-k:u=lo sul-ol-i-do-su
 people-CNT-ELA=ADD shame-PL-FACT-HAB-NEG
 'I don't fear God or care what people think.' (A; *Luke 18:4*)

Although highly marginal, a negative particle *aj* (which we saw in §3.1) is also attested in clause-final position in the ‘neither... nor’ context, see (78).

- (78) c’ :a-du=lo aj, ikun-nu=lo aj, he-l-lo
 drink-INF=ADD NEG.PTCL eat-INF=ADD NEG.PTCL DEM-OBL.FN-SUP.LAT
 harč’in-nu goš:i-d:u=logu
 look-INF get-CVB=COM
 [A girl so beautiful that people used to say looking at her:] ‘(One should) neither drink nor eat, only look at her.’ (A; *Tales*)

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative copula in the ‘only X’ construction

There is a frequent construction involving an adverbial form of the copula *s:u-gu* in the context of clausal negation (that is, there are two negation markers in a single clause), see (79–82). This construction is a standard means of expressing the meaning ‘only’ or ‘nobody/nothing but’¹². Both noun phrases and verb phrases, as well as adverbial phrases, can host *s:ugu*, which in this construction should be probably regarded as a particle, not functioning as a copula or an existential verb.

- (79) hol’u-gu rešin=su-gu k’unt’-u-χa r-uχi-č’igu
 seven-NUM year=COP.NEG-ADVZ husband-OBL-AD.ESS v-take-PRF.NEG
 hege-l-d:i
 DEM-OBL.FN-ERG
 ‘She had lived with her husband for only seven years.’ (A; *Luke* 2:36)
- (80) [...] s:urat-a-la=s:u-gu onš:i-gulo boc’o
 picture-OBL.PL-SUP.LAT=COP.NEG-ADVZ once-INDF wolf
 haco-s:u-b nif-nif-o-di
 see-NEG-PFV.PTCP Nif-Nif-OBL-ERG
 ‘[...] [said] Nif-Nif, who had only seen wolves in pictures.’ (A; *Tales*)
- (81) hila=si-š:-di munah-ol mič’-ol-gu
 above=ATTR-OBL.M-ERG sin-PL little-PL-ADVZ
 ačolja-š:u-o mič’i-gu=s:u-gu
 clean<IV>.CAUS+IPFV.PTCP-OBL(M)-AFFT<IV> little-ADVZ=COP.NEG-ADVZ

¹²The same construction type has been described for Bagvalal (Kibrik et al. 2001: 182, 721–722), see also Tatevosov (2021) for a semantic analysis.

hilu-dosja

love-FUT.NEG

‘Whoever has been forgiven little (by God) will only love little.’ (A; *Luke* 7:47)

- (82) b-ihu azab-aq’uba=lo ič:i-d:u=su-gu
IV-many punishment-suffering=ADD give-CVB=COP.NEG-ADVZ

w-olelto=lo=s:u

M-let.HAB=ADD=NEG

‘[A spirit] doesn’t leave him without torturing him.’ (A; *Luke* 9:39)

4.6.2 Negative forms in disjunction constructions

It is common for Nakh-Daghestanian languages to express contrastive disjunction (‘or else’, ‘otherwise’) by means of a form involving negation, e.g. a negative conditional form of a copula/existential verb, literally ‘if it is not’. Andi conforms to this tendency. Contrastive disjunction can be expressed with the form *s:utibor* ‘if not’, which is a combination of *s:u* and the conditional form *tibor* of the verb ‘become’, see (83) and (84)¹³.

- (83) žetəl s:u=li-bor š:ela w-uč’i-dja din
today COP.NEG=become-COND tomorrow M-die-FUT 1SG
[My dear son, you see that I am one foot in the grave,] ‘I will die any day now (lit. today or tomorrow).’ (A; *Tales*)

- (84) su=li-bor e<m>i hagi-du=di w-olon-d:u w-ok’o?
COP.NEG=become-COND who<H> see-INF=WH M-PL.go-CVB M-PL.be.AOR
[What did you go out into the desert to see? A reed swayed by the wind?] ‘If not, what did you go out to see?’ (A; *Luke* 7:25)

Another way of expressing disjunction is the use of a negative reply word *huns:u* ‘no’ (see §3.1), either on its own or with an additional emphatic particle *gulo*, cf. (85) and (86). The negative copula *s:u*, which is also used as a negative reply, can be found in the same function (87).

- (85) ho-b ei=kil, χ:unt’-u-Li boši-llo-j=s:i milki=le,
DEM-IV what<IV>=WH pig-OBL-GEN offspring-OBL-DAT=ATTR house=Q
hun=s:u qala=le?
yes=COP.NEG fortress=Q
‘What is this, a piglet’s house or a fortress?’ (A; *Tales*)

¹³As a disjunction particle, *jatibor*, a combination of *ja* ‘or’ with *tibor*, can also be used.

- (86) **hun=s:u=gulo** den ho-r r-iqon-nja!
 yes=COP.NEG=EMPH 1SG DEM-V V-break.CAUS-FUT
 ‘[Open the door,] or I’ll break it!’ (A; *Tales*)
- (87) mijarek’a, se-w-ul=gu iš:i-j=le hene-b misal men-ni
 lord one-M-PL=INTS 1PL.EXCL-DAT=Q DEM-IV parable 2SG-ERG
 boso-mado, su, ib-ul-olo-j=le?
 tell-PROG COP.NEG all-PL-OBL.PL-DAT=Q
 ‘Lord, are you telling this parable to us alone, or to everyone?’ (A; *Luke* 12:41)

4.6.3 Endocclisis in negative verb forms and the status of *s:u*

As already illustrated in §4.4 and §4.5 above, when the additive clitic =*lo* or the intensifying marker =*gu* are hosted by a negative verb form, they are placed word-internally, directly before the negation marker. That is, in forms with the standard negation marker -*s:u* these clitics precede it (see (68), (75), (82)), while in the irregular forms of the negative future and the prohibitive they appear inside the cumulative tense-aspect-mood-negation marker, after -*do* and before the negator -*s:u* fused with another former morpheme (see (69) and also additional examples (88–89)).¹⁴ In the perfect / perfective converb, the clitics occur before -*č’igu* (see (70)).

- (88) men araq’ c’a-do<gu>s:ub!
 2SG vodka drink-PROH<INTS>
 ‘Don’t you drink vodka at all!’ (R)
- (89) hege-ši-lo bužu-do<lo>s:ub
 DEM-OBL.M-SUP.LAT believe-PROH<ADD>
 ‘[Be careful] and also do not trust him.’ (A; *Tales*)

Both =*lo* and =*gu* are clitics, not affixes, as they display highly “promiscuous” behaviour and, besides verb forms, can be hosted by various other constituents (including noun phrases in various cases, adjectives, adverbs, etc.). On the other hand, negative verb forms are affixal, which is especially obvious in the case of forms with irregular negation. It can thus be argued that the placement of =*lo* and =*gu* in negative verb forms in Andi is an instance of endocclisis (for details of

¹⁴In the examples to follow, as well as in (69) above, I adopt a convention of glossing =*lo* and =*gu* inside synchronically unanalysable suffixes by means of angle brackets.

the argumentation, see Maisak 2021)¹⁵. To my knowledge, in Andi only =*lo* and =*gu* behave as endoclititics, and it is only the negative verb forms that can host endoclitisis.

The placement of =*lo* and =*gu* in regular negative forms before *s:u* (e.g. *c'a-do=lo=s:u*, *k'am-m-o=lo=s:u* 'neither drinks nor eats' with the present habitual) does not by itself provide conclusive evidence in favour of the endoclititic analysis. The reason is that it is not immediately clear whether *s:u* in verb forms should be regarded as a suffix or as a clitic. To summarize, the main Andi negator *s:u* occurs in the following contexts:

- i as an agglutinative right-periphery marker in (most) negative verb forms,
- ii as a suffix preceding another suffixal inflection in a few non-finite forms,
- iii as a former suffix now fused with other morphemes into a single negative complex (in the prohibitive and the negative future markers *-dos:ub* and *-dos:ja*),
- iv as a negative copula,
- v as a constituent negation marker.

Although *s:u* can be considered a clitic in functions (iv) and (v), a suffix in function (ii) and a “submorph” in function (iii), the status of *s:u* in (i) is not so clear. Moreover, different approaches can be taken to decide how many different *s:u* morphemes we are dealing with. Historically, of course, the negative copula and the constituent negation marker, as well as the verbal negator(s), all go back to one and the same morpheme, but on a synchronic level they may represent multiple distinct morphemes (at least two, the suffixal *s:u* and the clitic *s:u*).

As I have argued in §4.1, *s:u* as a verbal negator and *s:u* as a constituent negation marker are probably not one and the same “movable” morpheme synchronically, as the constituent negation marker can appear in predicates which either already contain the verbal negator (meaning that there are two instances of *s:u* in the same clause), or cannot take it on at all (e.g. with the verb form in *-č'igu*).

¹⁵Endoclititics, a.k.a. *intraclitics* or *mesoclititics*, are a rare type of clitics occurring inside words, either intermorphemically or intramorphemically. They are attested in a number of languages, such as European Portuguese, the Iranian languages Pashto and Sorani Kurdish, the Delta Edoid language Degema and some Southern Mande languages. Endoclitisis of person agreement markers (and also negation markers and the additive clitic) has previously been described for a Nakh-Dagestani language, namely Udi, a Lezgic language spoken in Northern Azerbaijan and Eastern Georgia (Harris 2002).

Likewise, one probably should not treat the verbal negator *s:u* synchronically as the same morpheme as the negative copula *s:u*, unless one wishes to say that all negative verb forms are periphrastic (as opposed to the affirmative forms which are synthetic). First, in the perfective participle and the masdar *s:u* is definitely a suffix, and cannot be a copula. Likewise, although verb-final *s:u* occurs with some non-finite forms (cf. the infinitive *bik'udu-s:u* 'not to be, not to happen'), it would be strange to claim that the negative infinitive is derived from its affirmative counterpart with the help of a negative copula. An alternative analysis might be that among the negative verb forms in *s:u*, some are underlying periphrastic forms with a negative copula *s:u*, while others (in particular, non-finite forms) are simply suffixal, but this analysis seems to be unreasonably complicated. I conclude that there are three *s:u* morphemes in modern Andi, namely a suffix found on verb forms (except some irregular ones) and two clitics, a constituent negator and a negative copula.

4.6.4 Diachronic notes and observations

The wide distribution of a single marker *s:u* which is found on both declarative and non-declarative, finite and non-finite verb forms is an unusual feature of Andi, as in Andic languages verb forms do not always have regular negative equivalents and different negation morphemes are usually used for the encoding of different domains of negation.

According to [Alekseev \(1988: 119\)](#) the main negation marker at the Proto-Andic level was probably **-č'i*, although in Andi *-č'igu* is the only remnant of this proto-language morpheme. One can possibly identify the element *gu* in *-č'igu* as diachronically related to the intensifier, but in present-day Andi *-č'i* cannot be used without *gu* in any context, nor can *-č'igu* as a whole be employed in any other way except as part of the negative perfect (perfective converb). It is also not impossible that the form or the very existence of the marker *-č'igu* in Andi has been influenced by Avar, where the negative perfective converb has the suffix *-č'ogo* (and *go* is an intensifier clitic in Avar).

Furthermore, as pointed out by [Alekseev \(1988: 119\)](#), another Proto-Andic negation marker **s:i* is generally restricted to prohibitive forms in modern Andic languages, so its expansion in Andi may be a "secondary phenomenon"¹⁶. The details of the historical evolution of negation in Andi are, however, obscure, as no records of the language are available from earlier centuries.

¹⁶It is not impossible that some version of the Negative Existential Cycle has been in operation in Andi and has fostered the expansion of a new standard negation marker from a negative existential (copula). On the the Negative Existential Cycle, see a seminal paper by [Croft \(1991\)](#) and a recent overview by [Veselinova & Hamari \(2022\)](#), among others.

5 Conclusion

A peculiarity of Andi among the closely related languages of the Avar-Andic branch is the expansion of one and the same negative marker *s:u* into several domains of negation: the suffix *-s:u* is the marker of standard negation, but it is also used with non-indicative and non-finite verb forms. Besides, the negative copula has the same form *s:u*, and *s:u* is employed in constituent negation as well.

Negation in the verb paradigm is symmetric in the sense that all categories have affirmative and negative forms. In most verb forms, the suffixal marker *s:u* either follows or precedes another inflectional suffix, depending on the particular form. Although most negative constructions are symmetric in that “the negative does not differ from the corresponding affirmative in any other meaningful way than by the presence of the negative marker(s)” (Miestamo 2005: 61), three verb forms display constructional asymmetry of the A/Cat/TAM type.

There is a series of “counterexpectation” verb forms which seem to go back to a periphrastic construction involving some “inherently negative” auxiliary verb (**b-abi*); in general, forms with such semantics are not common in the languages of the family.

An interesting variant of a negative reply is *huns:u* which is a combination of a positive reply ‘yes’ with a negative copula (the latter can also function as a negative reply ‘no’ on its own).

The dedicated marker of negative indefinite pronouns *-gulo* is a lexicalized combination of two clitics, the intensifier *=gu* and the additive/scalar marker *=lo* ‘also, even’. There is also a dedicated adverbial caritive marker *ti(gu)* ‘without having’, while in the attributive construction, caritive phrases are headed by the participle of the negative copula.

As is common in Nakh-Daghestanian languages, contrastive disjunction (‘or else’, ‘otherwise’) can be expressed by means of a negative copula, a negative reply or a negative conditional form ‘if it is not’. A conventional means of expressing ‘only X’, ‘nobody/nothing except X’ is a combination of the adverbial form of the negative copula *s:ugu* with clausal negation (i.e. ‘saw only X’ will be expressed as ‘did not see not X’).

Table 2 summarizes the negative morphemes of Andi and the main constructions associated with them.

Table 2: Summary of negative morphemes and constructions

Negative morphemes / constructions	Functions
-s:u	standard negation (indicative, non-indicative, non-finite verb forms)
-dos:ja	negation of the future tense / imperfective participle (portmanteau morpheme historically including -s:u, < *-do-s:u-ja [-HAB-NEG-IPFV.PTCP])
-dos:ub	negation of the imperative (portmanteau morpheme historically including -s:u, < *-do-s:u-b [-HAB-NEG-IMP])
-č'igu	negation of the perfect tense / perfective converb (portmanteau morpheme, not cognate with -s:u)
-daɪid:u / -daɪid / b-aɪij	counterexpectation present (going back to a combination involving an inherently negative auxiliary verb *b-aɪi)
s:u	negative copula; also negative reply 'no'; also constituent negation marker
ɸidos:ja / ɸidos:a	'cannot, may not, is not allowed' (< 'become' in the negative future)
huns:u	negative reply 'no' (< <i>hun</i> 'yes' + negative copula <i>s:u</i>)
haj joχ, aj	negative replies 'no' (marginal)
-gulo	marker of negative indefinites (< intensifier = <i>gu</i> + additive = <i>lo</i> 'also, even')
-s:ub	head of an attributive caritive phrase ('one that does not have', < participle of the negative copula <i>s:u</i>)
ti(gu)	head of an adverbial caritive phrase ('without having', dedicated marker with or without the adverbializer <i>gu</i>)
t'iri	an element occasionally used to reinforce negation (< noun 'spatter, drop')
X=s:ugu + clausal negation	conventional means of expressing 'only', 'nobody/nothing except'
s:u, s:ulibor	contrastive disjunction marker ('or else', 'otherwise'): negative copula <i>s:u</i> or its combination with a conditional form <i>libor</i> 'if it is, if there is'
huns:u(=gulo)	contrastive disjunction marker ('or else', 'otherwise'): negative reply 'no' or its combination with an emphatic particle
ja... ja...	phrase-initial conjunction 'neither... nor' in negative sentences
...aj ...aj	phrase-final conjunction 'neither... nor' in negative sentences (marginal)

Acknowledgements

My thanks are due to Chopan Gaziev and Mesedu Alisultanova for their native speaker judgements on Andi, and to Steven Kaye for the help with the English of the paper and a number of helpful suggestions. I am also grateful to two anonymous reviewers and both editors for their insightful comments.

Abbreviations

1	first person	HAB	habitual
2	second person	IN	localization 'inside'
III	third (neutral) gender	INDF	indefiniteness
IV	fourth (neutral) gender	INDIR	indirect
V	fifth (neutral) gender	INF	infinitive
ABSTR	abstract noun	INTS	intensifier
AD	localization 'near'	INTER	localization 'in a mass'
ADD	additive	IPFV	imperfective
ADVZ	adverbializer	LAT	lative
AFFT	affective (case)	LOC	locative
AOR	aorist	M	masculine
APUD	localization 'close to'	MNR	manner adverbial
ATTR	attributivizer	MSD	masdar (action nominal)
AUX	auxiliary	N	neutral gender
CAR	caritive	NEG	negation
CAUS	causative	NUM	numeral
COM	comitative	OBL	oblique
COND	conditional	PFV	perfective
CNT	localization 'in contact'	PL	plural
COP	copula	PRF	perfect
CVB	converb	PROG	progressive
DAT	dative	PROH	prohibitive
DEGR	degree	PRS	present
DEM	demonstrative	PTCL	particle
ELA	elative	PTCP	participle
EMPH	emphatic	Q	polar question
ERG	ergative	QUOT	quotative
ESS	essive	RED	reduplication
EXCL	exclusive	REP	reportative
F	feminine	SG	singular
FN	feminine or neutral	SUP	localization 'on top'
FACT	factitive	CNTE	counterexpectation
FUT	future	VBZ	verbalizer
GEN	genitive	VOC	vocative
H	human	WH	content question

Unmarked values (absolute, singular) are not glossed.

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Negation in Tsova-Tush

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The present paper is a survey of negative constructions in the Nakh-Daghestanian language Tsova-Tush. Standard negation in main clauses, subordinate clauses and stative predications is expressed by a preverbal particle *co*. This negator is also found in the formation of other negative constructions like negative pronouns, or in tag questions, as well as in negative replies. Another negation particle *ma* is used with optatives and imperatives in order to form prohibitive constructions. Furthermore, there are several devices that can be used to derive negative items like privatives and to reinforce negation.

Keywords: negation, Tsova-Tush, negative pronouns, privative formation, negative lexicalization.

1 Introduction

Tsova-Tush (ISO: **bbl**, Glottocode: **bats1242**), also known as Batsbi, belongs to the Nakh branch of the Nakh-Daghestanian (or Northeast Caucasian) language family together with Chechen and Ingush. It is spoken by less than 500 people in a village in the Eastern part of the Republic of Georgia. The majority of speakers are older than 50 and children don't learn the language anymore. The Tsova-Tush people came from the mountains to the lowland in the 19th century and since then have been heavily influenced by Georgian, not only culturally but also linguistically, which is reflected in the vast amount of loanwords but also in some grammatical constructions.

Tsova-Tush is a morphologically ergative language, with some fluid intransitive verbs (**Holisky 1987**). Beside a number of grammatical cases, there are a number of spatial cases. All cases, beside the absolutive which is zero marked, need a so-called oblique stem marker to which they are attached. Another salient feature of Tsova-Tush is gender, a feature that is found in most Nakh-Daghestanian

languages. There is a total of eight genders, and gender agreement is mainly triggered by the absolutive arguments, i.e. S and P arguments. Gender agreement is indexed by prefixes on many verbs, some adjectives, adverbs and one numeral and postposition. Due to the influence of Georgian, Tsova-Tush additionally developed person agreement which is not found in many other Nakh-Daghestanian languages. First and second person S and A arguments trigger person agreement which is marked by a suffix that is undoubtedly of pronominal origin.

The data presented here come from different sources. By far the biggest corpus is the Endangered Caucasian Languages in Georgia (ECLinG) corpus,¹ where most of the data stem from. More data is found in several Tsova-Tush dictionaries (Kadagidze & Kadagidze 1984; Bertlani et al. 2013; Bertlani et al. 2019) and other existing literature on the language (e.g. Holisky & Gagua 1994, a short grammar sketch; Schiefner 1856, the first description of the language). Additionally, I used data from my own fieldwork.

The focus of this paper is the expression of negation in Tsova-Tush and its structure follows the questionnaire for describing negation systems of languages (Miestamo 2025): §2 deals with clausal negation, i.e. negation in declarative and non-declarative clauses, negation in stative predications and negation in non-main clauses. In §3 non-clausal negation will be illustrated, that is negative replies, negative indefinites and negative derivational devices. Other aspects of negation such as the scope of negation, reinforcing negation and coordination of negated clauses are treated in §4. Finally §5 will sum up the most important features of negation in Tsova-Tush.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation in Tsova-Tush is quite regular and achieved by means of the negator *co*. This particle always appears preverbally, as is expected for an SOV language, and there is no structural asymmetry (cf. Miestamo 2005) between positive and negative clauses, i.e. they only differ in absence vs. presence of the negation marker as can be seen in examples (1) and (2) which both contain the verb *d-at-iⁿ* ‘III-give-AOR’.² In the first clause it is affirmative while in the second one it is used with the negator *co*.

¹The ECLinG corpus is available in the MPI archive which can be accessed via <https://archive.mpi.nl/>

²Roman numerals in the gloss are used to indicate gender.

- (1) čha pxi p'at'run d-ał-iⁿ son=e o tapar-v
 one five cartridge(III).ABS III-give-AOR 1SG.DAT=COORD this gun-INS
 daħ-v-ax-en-es
 PVB-I-go-AOR-1SG.ERG
 'He gave me some five cartridge cases and I went there with that gun.'
 (ECLinG, bav22_11, 00:01:52)
- (2) erek'le mepe-s oquj-n nal-i co d-ał-iⁿ
 Erekle king-ERG 3SG.OBL-DAT horseshoe(III).ABS-PL NEG III-give-AOR
 'King Erekle didn't give him horseshoes.' (ECLinG, bav17_06, 00:00:28)

Tsova-Tush has several preverbs to express spatial and aspectual relations. In complex verbs that consist of a preverb and the lexical verb, the negation particle follows the preverb and precedes the verb, (3). This not only shows that the preverbs are not fully attached to the verb, but also that the negator *co* could be treated as a prefix rather than a particle. There are, however, some other instances, where *co* is not fully integrated into the verb, e.g. in polar interrogative clauses, the interrogative enclitic *=i* attaches to the item in preverbal position, which is – in negative polar interrogatives – *co*. Therefore, I will treat it as a particle, as in (3).

- (3) atx uq deni ču co ix-atx
 1PL.EXCL.ERG that.OBL day.IN PVB.in NEG go-1PL.EXCL.ERG
 'We don't go inside that day.' (ECLinG, bav21_05, 00:01:16)

Tsova-Tush has periphrastic verb forms consisting of a participle and the auxiliary *daⁿ* 'be'. The negator *co* tends to precede the entire construction, i.e. it occurs either before the participle, as in (4), or it occurs before the auxiliary, as in (5). Its occurrence before the auxiliary is much less common.

- (4) iștruⁿ vum co xac'-en d-a soⁿ žer
 such thing(III).ABS NEG hear-PTCP III-be.PRS 1SG.DAT yet
 'I haven't heard such a thing yet.' (ECLinG, bav19_06, 00:01:03)
- (5) co j-a-ħ daħ-q'anjajln vʃalaʔ=a uišne
 NEG II-be.PRS-2SG.ABS PVB-become_old.PTCP at_all=COORD similar
 bubuk'-saⁿ lamzur j-a-ħ
 flower-like beautiful II-be.PRS-2SG.ABS
 'You have not become old at all, you are as beautiful as a flower.' (ECLinG, bav14_07, 00:00:13)

In complex verbs that consist of a root and a transitivizing or intransitivizing derivational suffix, *co* cannot intervene between the root and the suffix (cf. Harris (2009)), e.g. (24).

There is no inherent ‘not yet’ form in the sense of Comrie (1985: 54–55) in Tsova-Tush. Expression of such constructions is achieved by the Georgian particle *žer* ‘yet’, as in (6).

- (6) seⁿ badr-i-v žer co alin d-a so-go
1SG.GEN child-PL-ERG yet NEG say.PTCP III-be.PRS 1SG-ALL.IN
‘My children haven’t said that to me yet.’ (ECLinG, bav13_17, 00:05:16)

A suffix that is only found in negative contexts is *-gě* which is attached to verbs to express ‘no longer, not anymore’ and is used together with the negation particle *co*. In present and aorist forms it follows the tense suffixes, as in (7), while the past tense suffix and personal markers follow it, as in (8–9).

- (7) soⁿ ħo co j-ec’e-gě
1SG.DAT 2SG.ABS NEG II-love.PRS-anymore
‘I don’t love you (female) anymore.’ (fieldnotes)
- (8) co j-il-ge-r
NEG II-laugh-anymore-PST
‘She was no longer laughing.’ (Holisky & Gagua 1994: 187)
- (9) co ał-in-ge-s
NEG say-AOR-anymore-1SG.ERG
‘I no longer said it.’ (Holisky & Gagua 1994: 187)

From time to time the suffix *-gě* is marked twice on verbs. According to my consultant this double marking is used to draw attention to the emotional bond the speaker has toward the event, as in (10).

- (10) ese alni duq daxn co d-a-ge-gě
here Alvani.IN many cattle(III).ABS NEG III.be.PRS-anymore-anymore
‘Here in Alvani, there are not many cattle anymore.’ (ECLinG, bav07_13, 00:04:36)

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Non-declarative clauses, i.e. interrogative and imperative clauses show some deviation from the standard negation pattern illustrated in §2.1.

In content questions the negation particle *co* behaves as in standard negation, it simply precedes the verb as illustrated in (11) with the interrogative pronoun *vuⁿ* ‘why’.

- (11) *vux ał-in, vuⁿ co d-axk’-eⁿ*
 what say-AOR why NEG III-come-AOR
 ‘What did they say, why didn’t they come back?’ (ECLinG, bav19_16, 00:01:47)

Polar questions, however, are marked by the interrogative enclitic =*i* which is attached to the item that precedes the verb. In case of negation this is *co*, which – through a regular phonological process – becomes *cu=j*, as in (12). If, however, the focus of the polar question is on another constituent, it will take the interrogative enclitic instead, as can be seen in (13), where the focus of the question is on *bader* ‘child’.

- (12) *dezert’ cu=j v-a?*
 deserter(I).ABS NEG=Q I-be.PRS
 ‘Isn’t he a deserter?’ (ECLinG, bav24_09, 00:00:51)
- (13) *bader=i co d-a?*
 child(III).ABS=Q NEG III-be.PRS
 ‘Isn’t it a CHILD?’ (fieldnotes)

Prohibitive constructions are formed by using the negation particle *ma*, which precedes the imperative. Just like the standard negator *co* it occurs in preverbal position, as in (14), and after preverbs, as in (15). Positive and negative imperatives only differ in presence vs. absence of the prohibitive particle, i.e. they belong to group II of *van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev)*’s (2013) classification of prohibitives: “The prohibitive uses the verbal construction of the second singular imperative and a sentential negative strategy not found in (indicative) declaratives.”

- (14) *seⁿ ag bʃarče is levan-ate-r [k’ak’al duq ma*
 1SG.GEN grandmother always this say-HAB-PST nut(IV).ABS many PROH
j-aq’o-t cohek’a kort-i-x muc’uk’ d-ejł
 IV-eat-IMP.PL otherwise head-OBL-CCS pimple(III).ABS III-appear
šun=ajnõ]
 2PL.DAT=QUOT
 ‘My grandmother always used to say: “Don’t eat too many nuts, otherwise pimples will break out on your head.”’ (ECLinG, bav04_01, 00:08:33)

- (15) daḥ ma j-ic-j-o-l jaš-o
 PVB PROH II-forget-II-INTRZ-POL sister-VOC
 ‘Sister, don’t forget!’ (Mikeladze 2011: 146)³

In negative optatives, which express wishes, curses, and the like and are formed by adding the politeness suffix *-l* to the imperative suffix, the same particle *ma* is used, as in (16).

- (16) matx ma gib-a-l oquj-n
 sun PROH see-IMP-POL 3SG.OBL-DAT
 ‘May s/he not see the sun!’ (Holisky & Gagua 1994: 182)

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Negation in stative predications does not differ from standard negation. All stative predications, i.e. equation, proper inclusion, attribution, locative predication, existential predication and possessive predication, are headed by the copula. If negated, the standard clausal negator *co* precedes the copula, as in (17–22), and, again, there is no structural asymmetry between negative and positive stative predications. Unlike periphrastic verbal constructions, where *co* precedes the entire construction, in stative predications, the negator precedes the copula, not the predicate.

Although Schiefner (1856: 63) mentions the omission of the copula-final vowel when used with *co*, i.e. *co d-a* ‘it is not (NEG III-be.PRS)’ becomes *cod*, I could not find examples of this form in my data. According to my speaker, this form is not used anymore even though she notes that her grandmother, born in the late 19th century, used this form. Later generations, however, only used it when mockingly imitating the speech of older people.⁴

- (17) Equation
 o juq’ co j-a
 this ball(IV).ABS NEG IV-be.PRS
 ‘This is not a ball.’ (ECLinG, bav23_08, 00:03:35)

³There is no vocative in Tsova-Tush; the suffix has been borrowed from Georgian

⁴Another similar contraction that is still in use is *comad* from *com* ‘nothing’ (see 3.2) and *d-a* ‘III-be.PRS’

- (18) Proper Inclusion
 meⁿ st'ak' st'ak' co v-a
 some man(I).ABS man(I).ABS NEG I-be.PRS
 'Some men are not men.' (Bertlani et al. 2013: 147)
- (19) Attribution
 e c'a d-aq:oⁿ co d-a
 that house(III).ABS III-big NEG III-be.PRS
 'This house is not big.' (fieldnotes)
- (20) Locative Predication
 kežbera co d-a č'er-e-x
 spider(III).ABS NEG III-be.PRS wall-OBL-CCS
 'The spider is not on the wall.' (fieldnotes)
- (21) Existential Predication
 normalurat ise samušao co j-a
 normally here work(IV).ABS NEG IV-be.PRS
 'Normally, there is no work here.' (ECLinG, bav21_10, 00:02:38)
- (22) Possessive Predication
 vir co d-a txo-go
 donkey(III).ABS NEG III-be.PRS 1PL.EXCL-ALL.IN
 'We don't have a donkey.' (ECLinG, bav07_01, 00:11:11)

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Tsova-Tush non-main clauses are headed by a number of non-finite verb forms like converbs to express temporal and other adverbial relations, participles, or verbal nouns (masdars). In negative subordinate clauses, these are preceded by the negation particle *co*.

Examples (23) and (24) illustrate negative adverbial clauses, marked by the simultaneous converb and the conditional converbs, respectively, with the preposed negator *co*.

- (23) [čuh co j-a-š] dayonbadjailnō j-a-sō
 home NEG II-be.PRS-SIM.CVB sad.II II-be.PRS-1SG.ABS
 'When I'm not at home, I'm sad.' (Holisky & Gagua 1994: 203)

- (24) [xi co maɫ-d-i-čeh-a], [xi-n mak co
 water NEG drink-III-TR-COND.CVB-2SG.ERG spring-DAT on NEG
 herc'-d-i-čeh-a] čuxui voma? daħ-daxašle-bala
 turn-III-TR-COND.CVB-2SG.ERG lamb(III).PL all PVB-die_out-INTRZ
 ho-go
 2SG-ALL.IN
 'If you don't give the lambs water, if you don't let them walk around a
 spring, all of them will die on you.' (ECLinG, bav03_02, 00:06:54)

Negative adverbial clauses that are formed by means of the verbal noun behave just as the negative converbal adverbial clauses, i.e. the negator precedes the verbal noun as exemplified in (25) where the causal adverbial clause is headed by the verbal noun in the contact case which is preceded by the negator *co*.

- (25) [doⁿ co xiɫ-r-ex] kuitad v-e?-n-as
 horse NEG become-MSD-CCS on_foot I-come-AOR-1SG.ERG
 'Because of not having a horse, I came on foot.' (Holisky & Gagau 1994:
 204)

One of the strategies to form relative clauses in Tsova-Tush, as is typical for Nakh-Daghestanian languages, is by using participles. In (26), the head of the relative clause is a participle which, in negative contexts, is preceded by the negation particle.

- (26) [že-x daħ co v-ac'ujn] st'ak'
 sheep-CCS PVB NEG I-care_for.PST.PTCP man(I).ABS
 'A man who didn't care for sheep.' (ECLinG, bav24_08, 00:01:13)

While Chechen, one of the two sister languages of Tsova-Tush, has negative converbs that are used, for instance, in resultative constructions (cf. Molochieva 2010: 146), there are no negative converbs in Tsova-Tush.

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

There is one negative lexicalization in Tsova-Tush, *vuntxe?* 'not know', as in (27). Note that the use of *vuntxe?* as a complement taking item is rare and it mainly functions as a parenthetical. A more frequent way of expressing 'not know' is by means of the negator *co* and the verb *xe?a* 'know.INF'.

- (27) oqus o xi hal-maɫ-en, vuntxe? oqujn vux d-a
 3SG.ERG that water PVB-drink-AOR not.know 3SG.DAT what III-be.PRS
 ‘She drank that water not knowing what it was.’ (ECLinG, bav18_02,
 00:01:49)

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Negative replies to positive polar questions are expressed by the negation particle *co*. It can either function on its own as a prosentence as in example (28) or be accompanied by additional information.

- (28) Q: osih=i d-ex-ne-š?
 there=Q III-live-AOR-2PL
 ‘Did you live there?’
 A: co.
 NEG
 ‘No.’ (ECLinG, bav22_16, 00:02:04)

The same particle *co* is used in order to provide a negative reply to a negative polar question, as in (29). Repetition of the whole clause is also possible in negative replies although it is much less common. An example for complete repetition is (30) where the negated clause is used without an additional preceding negative particle *co*. The only difference is the shift in person marking from second person to first person.

- (29) dec’ar vux d-a cu=j xe? hoⁿ? co=en
 love(III).ABS what III-be.PRS NEG=Q know.PRS 2SG.DAT NEG=QUOT
 aɫ-iⁿ
 say-AOR
 ‘Don’t you know what love is? “No”, she said.’ (ECLinG, bav19_02,
 00:00:52)

- (30) Q: co mušebado?
 NEG work.PRS.2SG.ABS
 ‘Don’t you work?’
 A: co mušebado-s
 NEG work.PRS-1SG.ABS
 ‘I don’t work.’ (ECLinG, bav08_04, 00:00:40)

If there is an affirmative answer to a negative polar question there is a polarity-reversing particle *mohec*, whose primary meaning is ‘of course’, but it can be used to contradict the negative question, similar to special particles that are found in other languages which fulfill the same function, e.g. German *doch* or Hungarian *de* (for an extensive overview on polarity reversing particles cf. [Holmberg 2015](#), and [Moser 2019](#)). In (31), *mohec* is used in this function expressing the speaker’s familiarity with the harmonica in contrast to the propositional content of the question.

- (31) Q: lungyar nat’uiⁿ garmoⁿ cu=j xac’en j-a
 Longianti Nato.GEN harmonica(IV).ABS. NEG=Q hear.PTCP IV-be.PRS
 hoⁿ?
 2SG.DAT
 ‘Didn’t you listen to Logianti Nato’s harmonica?’
 A: mohec, xac’en j-a soⁿ
 of_course hear.PTCP IV-be.PRS 1SG.DAT
 ‘Yes, of course I listened to it.’ (ECLinG, bav24_12, 00:03:29)

The impact of the Georgian language can be seen in negative replies as well since the use of the Georgian negation particle *ara* is found occasionally, as in (32).

- (32) Q: dah-b-oxk’-aⁿ co le?-er hoⁿ?
 PVB-V-sell-INF NEG wish-PST 2SG.DAT
 ‘Didn’t you want to sell it?’
 A: ara, co b-ujxk’-n-as
 no NEG V-sell-AOR-1SG.ERG
 ‘No, I didn’t sell it.’ (ECLinG, bav05_10, 00:01:13)

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Negative indefinites in Tsova-Tush are interrogative-based (cf. [Haspelmath 1997, 2013](#)) and are formed by combining the standard negation marker *co* with interrogative pronouns. The only exception to this is the negative indefinite *com* ‘nothing’ which is a contraction of the standard negator *co* and the indefinite pronoun *vum* ‘something’. A partial paradigm is given in Table 1 which shows the formation of negative indefinites with ‘who’ and ‘what’. As can be seen in Table 1, the interrogative pronouns are suppletive, i.e. absolute pronouns are

based on the stems *meⁿ* and *vux*, while the oblique pronoun stems are *ħan-* and *st'en-*.⁵

Table 1: Tsova-Tush interrogative and negative absolutive and oblique pronouns

		‘who’		‘what’	
		Interrogative	Negative	Interrogative	Negative
ABS		<i>meⁿ</i>	<i>comena</i>	<i>vux</i>	<i>com</i>
OBL		<i>ħan-</i>	<i>coħan-</i>	<i>st'en-</i>	<i>cost'en-</i>
DAT		<i>ħann</i>	<i>coħanna</i>	<i>st'enn</i>	<i>cost'enna</i>

Further negative indefinites are ‘nowhere’ and ‘never’ which are formed in a similar way. The combination of the standard negator *co* and the interrogative *mičēħ* ‘where’ yields *comičē* ‘nowhere’. This negative indefinite can be further modified by spatial case markers. In (33), the ablative marker is suffixed to the negative indefinite. Similarly, the negating particle *co* can combine with the interrogative *macaⁿ* ‘when’ which results in the negative indefinite *comacni*, as in (34), although the expression of ‘never’ is most of the time achieved by means of simple standard negation with the particle *co*.

- (33) *iq dač'irba sašvelav comič-rena j-a so-go*
 this.OBL trouble.IN help(IV).ABS nowhere-ABL IV-be.PRS 1SG-ALL.IN
 ‘In this trouble, help is coming from nowhere.’ (Bertlani et al. 2013: 272)

- (34) *comacni lax-mak' soⁿ ħo*
 never find-POT 1SG.DAT 2SG.ABS
 ‘I can never find you.’ (fieldnotes)

According to Mikeladze (2011: 202ff) there are three types of clauses with negative indefinites, one of them being the original Nakh one while the others are borrowings from Georgian and mirror the historical development of Georgian negative indefinite clauses. The three patterns are as follows:

1. the use of an indefinite pronoun in a negative clause which seems to be the original Nakh pattern, as in (35), and (36) for comparison to Ingush
2. the use of a negative indefinite pronoun in an affirmative clause, as in (37–38)

⁵This form is also found in answers to ‘Thank you’, i.e. *cost'eni* ‘You’re welcome!’

3. the use of a negative pronoun in a negative clause, i.e. double negation, as in (39–40)

In the first pattern, an indefinite pronoun is used in a negated clause. This strategy is the original strategy in Nakh languages but seems to be in the course of being replaced by the Georgian patterns. Compare examples (35) from Tsova-Tush and (36) from Ingush, its sister language. There are no dedicated negative indefinite pronouns in Ingush but if used in negative clauses, the generic-noun-based indefinites *sag* ‘person’ and *hama* ‘thing’ function as negative pronouns (cf. Nichols 2011: 696).

- (35) ham-en co xajc’-n-or txe p̃harči-ⁿ axa-r
 someone.OBL-DAT NEG hear-AOR-REP 1PL.GEN dog.PL-GEN bark-MSD
 ‘Nobody heard our dogs’ barking.’ (Mikeladze 2011: 198)
- (36) Ingush (East Caucasian, ISO: inh, Glottocode: ingu1240)
 taxan balxa sag hwa-vendzar
 today work.ADV person DX-V.COME.NEG.WIT.PST
 ‘Nobody came to work today.’ (Nichols 2011: 696)

The second pattern, the use of a negative indefinite pronoun in an affirmative clause, seems to be a Georgian calque and presents a structurally intermediate stage between the lack of negative indefinite pronouns and negative concord. This strategy is also the most common in Schiefner’s early grammar of Tsova-Tush from 1856, although the third pattern is found occasionally. Examples (37) and (38) illustrate the use of negative indefinite pronouns in affirmative clauses. Just as in Georgian, the position of the negative pronoun in this construction is restricted to the preverbal position. In the third pattern, negation is additionally marked by preverbal *co*, allowing the negative pronoun to have a less restricted position (cf. for Georgian King 1996), as in (40).

- (37) cohan-na xajc’-n-or txe p̃harči-ⁿ axa-r
 nobody.OBL-DAT hear-AOR-REP 1PL.GEN dog.PL-GEN bark-MSD
 ‘Nobody heard our dogs’ barking.’ (Mikeladze 2011: 202)
- (38) isev comena d-ec’e-r d-aʔ-it-aⁿ oqus
 here nobody.ABS III-must-PST III-come-CAUS-INF 3SG.ERG
 ‘She wasn’t allowed to let anybody enter there.’ (ECLinG, bav18_04, 00:10:41)

The use of negative pronouns in negative clauses is a rather recent innovation, probably a calque from Georgian. Constructions with this double negation do not differ from the previous two strategies in meaning. Example (39) can be used to express the same proposition as examples (35) and (37). As mentioned above, negative pronouns or quantifiers do not need to be adjacent to the verb or the negator in this construction but can be followed by other constituents, as in (40).

- (39) coḥa-na co xajc'-n-or txe pḥarči-ⁿ axa-r
 nobody.OBL-DAT NEG hear-AOR-PST 1PL.GEN dog.PL-GEN bark-MSD
 'Nobody heard our dogs' barking.' (Mikeladze 2011: 202)
- (40) comičhe ḥeⁿ žagnõ co d-ag-ir soⁿ
 nowhere 2SG.GEN book(III).ABS NEG III-see-PST 1SG.DAT
 'I haven't seen your book anywhere.' (fieldnotes)

Negative pronouns in prohibitive constructions and optatives are used in the same manner although the standard negator *co* is replaced by the prohibitive particle *ma*, as in (41).

- (41) mamena ma d-o-la-l esev
 nobody.ABS PROH III-come-IMP-POL here
 'Nobody come here!' (fieldnotes)

In polar questions which contain negative indefinite pronouns, the position of the interrogative marker =*i* varies. With *com* 'nothing' the interrogative marker is attached to the negative pronoun, i.e. *com=i*, as in (42). On the other hand, in polar questions that involve *comena* 'nobody', the interrogative marker is attached to the negator, i.e. it is placed between the negator with which the negative indefinite is formed and the interrogative pronoun, *cu-j-mena* 'NEG-Q-who', as in (43).

- (42) com=i xe? soⁿ
 nothing=Q know.PRS 1SG.DAT
 'Don't you know anything?' (ECLinG, bav16_02, 00:00:40)
- (43) psare cujmena lav-iⁿ šu-gõ
 yesterday nobody.ABS.Q talk-AOR 2PL-ALL
 'Did nobody talk to you yesterday?' (fieldnotes)

Further negative indefinites are formed with *com* ‘nothing’ and are used mainly to reinforce negation (see §4.4), *com-ač* ‘nothing at all (nothing.ABS-INTS)’, *com-c* ‘not at all (nothing.ABS-indeed)’, *ča-?-com* ‘nothing at all (one-again-nothing)’, *com-ge* ‘nothing anymore (nothing-anymore)’, *com-c-ge-?* ‘nothing anymore (nothing-indeed-anymore-again)’, *ča-?-co* ‘not even one (one-again-NEG)’ and *ča-comena* ‘nobody at all (one-nobody.ABS)’.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

There are several derivational processes in Tsova-Tush to form privatives. The primary strategy to form privatives is by means of the suffix *-c’iⁿ* which can be attached to nouns, as in (44), and verbal stems, as in (45).

- (44) txenⁿ c’a dadi-c’iⁿ d-is-en=e išt’a?
- 1PL.EXCL.GEN house(III).ABS master-PRIV III-remain-AOR=COORD such
- d-a-r-atx
- III-be-PST-1PL.EXCL.ABS
- ‘Our house remained without a master and so we lived.’ (ECLinG, bav19_13, 00:01:58)

- (45) ʔamda-c’iⁿ j-a-r=e p’ap’ra gor-e-ⁿ joḥ
- learn-PRIV II-be-PST=COORD Papashvili family-OBL-GEN girl(II).ABS
- j-a-r
- II-be-PST
- ‘She was uneducated and she was a girl from the Papashvili family.’ (ECLinG, bav22_08, 00:00:18)

Another possibility to express privatives is direct borrowing of Georgian privatives that are formed by the circumfix *u-* *-o* with loss of the word-final vowel. While this strategy is restricted to Georgian loanwords, the Tsova-Tush privative suffix *-c’iⁿ* can be applied not only to indigenous Tsova-Tush words but to Georgian loanwords as well. In the first example below, Tsova-Tush has borrowed the privative form of the Georgian word with loss of the suffix. In the second example, only the noun has been borrowed from Georgian, and the Tsova-Tush privative suffix is added.

1. Georgian *ut’vino* > Tsova-Tush *ut’viⁿ* ‘brainless’
2. Georgian *uk’almo* vs. Tsova-Tush *k’almec’iⁿ* ‘without a pen’

With some adjectives it is possible to derive antonyms by prefixing the standard negation marker *co* to it, e.g. *coyazen* ‘not good, bad’ from *yazen* ‘good’.

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

In focused negative constructions, the scope of negation can be narrowed to the NP in focus. The NP in the scope of negation is followed by the negator *co* which – in standard negation – precedes the verb and can be additionally marked by *ma* ‘however’, as in (46).

- (46) mit’ō seⁿ vaš v-a=e p’et’ō ma co
 Mito 1SG.GEN brother(1).ABS I-be.PRS=COORD Peto however NEG
 ‘Mito is my brother, not Peto.’ (Holisky & Gagua 1994: 210)

4.2 Negative polarity items

Beside the negative pronouns that are only found in negative constructions there are two more items that are only used in negative contexts. The first one is *všala?* ‘at all’ which is used to reinforce negation (§4.4). The second one is the postposition *bedeⁿ* ‘but, besides, except for’ which is treated in §4.6.2. Although the resulting clause does not express a negative meaning, it still requires the clause to be marked by the negation particle *co*.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

There are no effects on the marking of NPs in negative constructions.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

There are several items that are used to reinforce negation. A frequent one is the negative polarity item *všala?* which would best be translated as ‘at all’. It is only found in negative contexts and can be used with the standard negation marker *co*, as in (47), as well as with the prohibitive marker *ma*, as in (48), and negative pronouns, as in (49). Its position seems not to be fixed.

- (47) co j-a-ħ daħ-q’anjajln všala?=a uišne
 NEG II-be.PRS-2SG.ABS PVB-become_old.PTCP at.all=COORD similar
 bubuk’-saⁿ lamzur j-a-ħ
 flower-like beautiful II-be.PRS-2SG.ABS
 ‘You have not become old at all, you are as beautiful as a flower.’ (ECLinG, bav14_07, 00:00:13)

- (48) vʃalaʔ tataⁿ ma j-aqo-t, aʔ-iⁿ o badri-g,
 at.all noise(IV).ABS PROH IV-spread-IMP.PL, say-AOR this children-ALL,
 at'in ʔedaxk'-a-t, aʔ-iⁿ
 quiet sit.PL-IMP-IMP.PL say-AOR
 “Don’t make any noise,” he said to the children, “sit there silently ...”
 (ECLinG, bav18_04, 00:15:57)

- (49) j-ax:eⁿ bež j-a o Maqvle-go-ħ=e, lamzur
 IV-long hair(IV).ABS IV-be.PRS this Maqvala-ALL-IN=COORD beautiful
 zorejš=e, šer nana-s vʃalaʔ comičhe ix-it-or
 very=COORD REFL mother-ERG at.all nowhere.IN go-CAUS-PST
 ‘That Maqvala has long hair, very beautiful and her mother did not allow
 her to go anywhere at all.’ (ECLinG, bav18_02, 00:00:06)

Another strategy to reinforce negation is the use of the negative reinforcing item *comceʔ* (*com-c-ge-ʔ* ‘nothing-indeed-anymore-again’) that is used to express ‘nothing anymore’. Similarly *comgě* (*comgě* ‘nothing-anymore’) can be used to fulfill the same function. Further items found with *com* ‘nobody’ to reinforce negation are *comač* ‘nothing at all’ which uses the intensifying suffix *-ač*, as in (50) and *com-c* ‘not at all (nothing-indeed)’.

- (50) ma kot:l-a-t, tiv-a-t=ajnǎ
 PROH sorrowful.INTRZ-IMP-IMP.PL relax-IMP-IMP.PL=QUOT
 xajc’nǎ, baq’eʔ comač’ tag-din-or den-chaʔ
 understand.AOR really nothing_at_all do-TR-PST day-one
 “Don’t worry, relax!”, they understood and they did nothing at all for the
 whole day.’ (fieldnotes)

Other negative pronouns that are based on the numeral *cha* ‘one’ in order to express ‘at all’ are e.g. *čha-ʔ-co* ‘not even one (one-again-NEG)’, *čha-ʔ-com* ‘nothing at all (one-again-nothing)’, as in (51) and *čha-ʔ-comena* ‘nobody at all (one-again-nobody)’, as in (52).

- (51) inc marnan-i-v čhaʔcom d-ec’ aʔ-aⁿ
 now mother_in_law-PL-ERG nothing_at_all III-must.PRS say-INF
 ‘Now, the mothers-in-law mustn’t say anything at all.’ (ECLinG, bav16_06,
 00:05:20)

- (52) *qeⁿ ał-iⁿ o k'nat-i-v, msaxur-i-v me ča?comena co*
 then say-AOR that boy-PL-ERG servant-PL-ERG SUB nobody_at_all NEG
d-a=en ał-iⁿ
 III-be.PRS=QUOT say-AOR
 'Then those boys, the servants, said "Nobody is here at all".' (ECLinG,
 bav18_04, 00:14:17)

The same strategy to reinforce negation is found in prohibitives, where *ča?com* is replaced by its prohibitive counterpart *ča?mam*, as in (53).

- (53) *ča?mam d-ik'-a-l=ajnö, d-ex-iⁿ vaš-a-s*
 nothing_at_all III-take-IMP-POL=QUOT III-request-AOR brother-OBL-ERG
nan-a-x
 mother-OBL-CCS
 "Don't take anything at all", the brother asked his mother.' (fieldnotes)

Finally, there is a suffix *-k'a?* 'a little' which is usually used with adjectives or adverbs (e.g. *kast'en-k'a?* 'a little quickly (quickly-DIM)'). If used with the negator *co* it expresses a rather negative attitude of the speaker towards the proposition although not as drastic as standard negation, as in (54).

- (54) *o hal-qexk'-ien co-k'a? j-ec' soⁿ*
 this PVB-boil-PTCP NEG-DIM IV-love.PRS 1SG.DAT
 'I don't like it (the meat) too much when it is boiled up.' (ECLinG,
 bav08_12, 00:08:20)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

There is no special negative coordinating conjunction for coordinating affirmative and negative clauses, or two negative clauses. This can be achieved by juxtaposition, by using the coordinator *je* 'and' or the coordinating enclitic *=e* 'and' respectively.

Another strategy that is found with coordinated negative clauses, as well as with negated coordinated constituents, is coordination by means of the particle *le* 'or' which is used to form negative correlative conjunctions. If used to coordinate negative clauses, the particle is placed clause initially and each clause is either negated independently or, if they share the same verb, only one clause receives a negator.

In coordinated prohibitive clauses the same particle *le* 'or' is used but together with the prohibitive particle *ma*.

When used with negated coordinated constituents, *le* precedes each constituent, as in (55), while the negator is found in its standard position, i.e. preceding the verb.

- (55) txen pheh dañ co b-axk'l-ar xolme le qor, le sxal, le
 our village.IN PVB NEG V-rot-PST use_to or apple or pear or
 cha?com
 nothing_at_all
 ‘In our village neither the apples, nor the pears, nor anything else became
 rotten.’ (ECLinG, bav04_01, 00:17:57)

Tsova-Tush has a negative conjunction, *cohek'a?* ‘lest, otherwise’, which is made up of the negator, the conditional *-hě*, and *-k'a?* ‘a little’, as in (14) and (56).

- (56) so-g v-ek-iⁿ me hal ma qit: cohek'a? p'irdap'ir
 1SG-ALL I-shout-AOR SUB PVB PROH get_up lest straight
 qos-o-s hoⁿ ał-iⁿ
 fire-FUT-1SG.ERG 2SG.DAT say-AOR
 ‘He shouted at me: “Don’t stand up, otherwise I will fire at you.”’
 (ECLinG, bav06_07, 00:02:37)

An example for contrastive negation can be found in §4.1.

Tsova-Tush has one modal verb to express possibilities, permission and the like, *mak'aⁿ* ‘can, be able’, which can appear in two constructions.

- *mak'aⁿ* can be attached directly to the verbal stem, as in (58)
- *mak'aⁿ* is used finitely together with an infinitive, as in (59–60)

In negation with the first pattern the negator *co* precedes the verbal stem to which the potential marker is attached, as in (57–58). Tense and person markers follow the potential suffix.

- (57) co v-ax-mak' soⁿ
 NEG I-go-POT.PRS 1SG.DAT
 ‘I can’t understand why men drink beer.’ (fieldnotes)
- (58) co xa?-mak' soⁿ [ʃuⁿ mełö vaser-v jeg]
 NEG know-POT.PRS 1SG.DAT why drink.PRS men-ERG beer
 ‘I can’t understand why men drink beer.’ (fieldnotes)

In the second pattern, i.e. with *mak'aⁿ* used as a finite verb, the negator can either precede the potential verb, i.e. it negates the matrix clause, as in (59), or it precedes the infinitive inside the subordinate clause, as in (60).

- (59) co mak' hoⁿ [inc moqb-aⁿ]
 NEG can.PRS 2SG.DAT now sing-INF
 'You can't sing now.' (fieldnotes)
- (60) [ču co v-ax-aⁿ] mak' soⁿ me [bin
 PVB NEG I-go-INF can.PRS 1SG.DAT SUB flat(III).ABS
 miyeba-d-o-lo-s]
 receive-III-TR-SUBJ-1SG.ERG
 'I can't go there to take the flat.' (ECLinG, bav25_15, 00:03:53)

In negative constructions, however, the first pattern is preferred. The second pattern is found rarely overall but seems to be preferred for affirmative constructions. The distribution of the two patterns in negative and affirmative contexts is illustrated in Table 2.

Table 2: Distribution of *mak'aⁿ* in negative and positive clauses

	NEG	POS	n
V- <i>mak'aⁿ</i>	91	5	96
<i>mak'aⁿ</i> + V-INF	6	21	27

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

There are at least two instances of negative transport, i.e. the negator of the matrix clause is interpreted as negating the subordinate predicate. Those two items that allow negative transport are the verb *mot:aⁿ* 'think' and *tabit* which can best be translated as 'it seems (to me)', as in (61–64).

- (61) co mot: soⁿ [me o v-aγ-ö]
 NEG think.PRS 1SG.DAT SUB 3SG I-come-PRS
 'I don't think that he is coming.' (fieldnotes)
- (62) mot: soⁿ [me o co v-aγ-ö]
 think.PRS 1SG.DAT SUB 3SG NEG I-come-PRS
 'I think that he is not coming.' (fieldnotes)

- (63) *co tabit [v-aŷ-ǒ o]*
 NEG it_seems I-come-PRS 3SG
 ‘It does not seem that he is coming.’ (fieldnotes)

- (64) *tabit [o co v-aŷ-ǒ]*
 it_seems 3SG NEG I-come-PRS
 ‘It seems that he is not coming.’ (fieldnotes)

It is matter of future research to establish whether other predicates allow negative transport.

4.6.2 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

Another construction that involves the standard negation marker *co* is the tag question. Tsova-Tush tag questions are formally the same as negation in negative polar interrogatives, i.e. they are formed by combining the negative particle *co* and the interrogative enclitic *=i*. The resulting tag question marker *cuj* follows the clause it refers to. In contrast to e.g. English tag questions, in Tsova-Tush there is no reversed polarity, i.e. the negative tag question is used with positive as well as negative clauses. In (65), the clause that precedes the tag question marker *cuj* is negated, while in (66) the main clause is positive. In affirmative clauses there is another possibility by using the particle *ha?*=*i* ‘yes=Q’, although the former strategy seems to be preferred with both polarities.

- (65) *ha?, magram oquj-go co j-a-r gač’irveb, cu=j?*
 yes but 3SG-ALL.IN NEG IV-be-PST poverty(IV).ABS NEG=Q
 ‘Yes, but this one wasn’t poor, was he?’ (ECLinG, bav25_16, 00:01:45)
- (66) *j-aq:oⁿ p’ativ j-eb1-or marnan-e-n*
 IV-big respect(IV).ABS IV-put-PST mother_in_law-OBL-DAT
 mardad-e-n, cu=j?
 father_in_law-OBL-DAT NEG=Q
 ‘They respected their mother-in-law and father-in-law, didn’t they?’
 (ECLinG, bav15_06, 00:05:07)

The postposition *bedeⁿ* ‘but, besides, except for’ is another expression that is only found in formally negative contexts that actually encode a positive sense. In (67), the postposition governs its noun in the case that is required by the verb, here the contact case. While the proposition itself is not negative, the postposition can only be used together with the negator *co*.

- (67) rvapeqaʔo surt-a-x beden co d-ag-in d-a
 octopus(III).ABS picture-OBL-CCS besides NEG III-see-PTCP III-be.PRS
 soⁿ
 1SG.DAT
 ‘I have only seen an octopus in a picture.’ (Bertlani et al. 2013: 243)

4.6.3 Diachronic notes and observations

Since there is not a lot of historical data other than Schiefner (1856), and today there is no new generation speaking the language, there is not a lot of material for diachronic observations. We can still offer some reasoning based on the available data.

The first change we find is the expansion of the contraction in negative copula constructions. The formerly acceptable, morphologically complex forms *cod*, *cov*, *coj*, ... which consist of the negator and the gender marker with loss of word-final vowel of the copula are now only available as independent word forms, i.e. *co da*, *co va*, *co ja*, ... (see §2.3).

Another observation concerns negative pronouns. While the language started out with using indefinite pronouns in negative clauses, due to Georgian influence Tsova-Tush adopted negative indefinite pronouns which were first used in affirmative clauses and are now subject to negative concord, i.e. with additional negation of the clause in addition to negative indefinite marking (see §3.2).

5 Summary

This paper gave an overview on negation in Tsova-Tush. Table 3 summarizes the most important negation strategies.

Table 3: Summary of negation in Tsova-Tush

Clausal negation		Chapter	Examples
<i>co</i>	preverbal particle used to negate		
	(1) main clauses	§2.1	(2–4)
	(2) subordinate clauses	§2.4	(23–26)
	(3) stative predications	§2.3	(17–22)
<i>ma</i>	preverbal particle used to negate		
	(1) imperatives	§2.2	(14–15)
	(2) optatives	§2.2	(16)
<i>cuj</i>	preverbal particle <i>co</i> + interrogative enclitic = <i>i</i> used to negate polar interrogatives	§2.2	(12–13)
<i>-gě</i>	verbal suffix only used in negative clauses, expresses ‘no longer’	§2.1	(7–10)
<i>žer</i>	particle to express ‘not yet’ in negative clauses	§2.1	(6)
<i>vuntxe?</i>	negative lexicalization ‘not know’	§2.5	(27)
Non-clausal negation			
<i>co</i>	negative particle used as default negative re- ply to positive and negative questions	§3.1	(28–29)
<i>moñec</i>	polarity reversing particle meaning ‘of course’, used as affirmative reply to negative questions	§3.1	(31)
<i>co/ma</i> + interrogative pronoun	formation of negative pronouns	§3.2	Table 1
<i>-c’iⁿ</i>	suffix used for the formation of privatives from nouns and verbal stems	§3.3	(44–45)
<i>cuj</i>	negative particle <i>co</i> + interrogative enclitic = <i>i</i> , used to mark tag questions	§4.6.2	(65–66)
Other aspects of negation			
<i>všala?</i>	NPI ‘at all’, used to reinforce negation	§4.4	(47–49)
<i>bedeⁿ</i>	NPI used in expletive negation expressing ‘only’	§4.6.2	(67)
<i>coñek’a</i>	negative conjunction ‘lest, otherwise’	§4.5	(56)

Acknowledgements

I'm thankful for the time and energy the Tsova-Tush speakers spend to teach me about their language, especially my main consultant Tina Tsiskarishvili.

Abbreviations

I-V	gender	INTS	intensifier
1	first person	INTRZ	intransitivizer
2	second person	MSD	masdar
3	third person	NEG	negator
ABL	ablative	OBL	oblique stem marker
ABS	absolutive	PL	plural
ADV	adverbial	POL	politeness
ALL	allative	POT	potential
AOR	aorist	PRIV	privative
CAUS	causative	PROH	prohibitive
COND	conditional	PRS	present
COORD	coordinating enclitic	PST	past
CCS	contact case	PTCP	participle
CVB	converb	PVB	preverb
DAT	dative	Q	polar question
DIM	diminutive	QUOT	quotative
DX	deictic prefix	REFL	reflexive
ERG	ergative	REP	reported past
EXCL	exclusive	SG	singular
FUT	future	SIM	simultaneous
GEN	genitive	SUB	subordinator
HAB	habitual	SUBJ	subjunctive
IMP	imperative	TR	transitivizer
IN	spatial case 'in'	VOC	vocative
INF	infinitive	WIT	witnessed
INS	instrumental		

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Negation in Khalkha Mongolian

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This chapter offers an introduction to the negation system of Khalkha Mongolian structured according to typological and functional categories. The negation of declarative predicates, nominalized elements and adverbial clauses is all done by a former existential negator (=güi). For locative negation, the same negator generally combines with the copula. Alternatively, a new locational negator (*alac* ‘absent’) can be used for locative, dative-possessive and marginally privative-possessive negation. Possession is negated either by a dative-based or a privative-based pattern. Nouns are negated by the former adjective *biš* ‘other’, which usually also negates adjectival predicates and is used with participles for metalinguistic negation. Second person imperatives are almost exclusively negated by a preverbal negator (*bitgii*) which likely goes back to a verb form ‘desist!’. Negative one-word answers can be formed by both (*ü*)güi and *biš*, while lone *bitgii* can be used to turn down somebody else’s proposed action. Postverbal negators (=güi, *biš*) take scope over preceding elements within the predicate, while there tend to be strong preferences for the position of the negator in sentences with a matrix and subordinate predicate. The negation of indefinites is expressed by a focus clitic in combination with clausal negation. This paper also addresses negative lexicalizations and other aspects of negation.

Keywords: Standard negation, prohibitive, ascriptive negation, negative derivation, negative modal adjectives.

1 Introduction

This paper is intended as a comprehensive introduction to the negation system of Khalkha Mongolian (ISO: **khk**, Glottocode: **halh1238**) as spoken in the Mongolian state. The paper starts out from the author’s general understanding of Mongolian negation, based on existing literature and experience as a second language user. To extend this limited basis, all negative forms within a 134,191 word (18

hours) Spoken Corpus in a partially phonetic transcription (“SC”, Zolžargal & Brosig 2012 [=SC1], 2012/2017 [=SC2]) were annotated and classified. Since this corpus underrepresents several forms that a literate user of Khalkha Mongolian would consider part of her negation system, several individual patterns were additionally evaluated on the basis of a 34,642,687 word Internet Corpus (“IC”, Östling & Brosig 2011). Regardless of whether data is taken from spoken, written or secondary sources, this paper employs a unified transcription trimmed towards phonemic accuracy.¹ In the bibliography and for citing text other than examples, a strict transliteration of Mongolian Cyrillic is used.² In examples from the non-televised part of SC2, person names are anonymized. Capitalization is retained in IC, but not imposed on SC.

Khalkha Mongolian is part of the Mongolic language family. Prehistorically, “Common Serbi-Mongolic” split into Proto-Serbi-Avar (including Xianbei, Taghbach, T’u-yü-hun and Kitan, first mentioned for the 1st century CE, linguistically attested from 6th century CE onwards) and Pre-Proto-Mongolic (Shimunek 2015: 25, 84–85, 116–118, 135–136). By the early 13th century, it had evolved into Middle Mongol (in the eastern parts of the contemporary Mongolian state), the ancestor of all contemporary Mongolic languages. In the 13th–14th century, Middle Mongol as the language of the Chingisid conquerors was used as an official language in large parts of Eurasia. From there, the Central Mongolic branch evolved that consists of the demographically major branches Buryat (Southern Siberia), Oirat (Dzungaria, Qinghai, western Mongolia, Kalmykia), Khorchin-Kharchin (western Manchuria) and Khalkha-Chakhar, along with a few smaller varieties (see Luvsanvandan 1959, Janhunee 2006). Chakhar is spoken in central Inner Mongolia in north China, while Khalkha has historically been spoken in most of the current Mongolian state, excluding its west (Oirat, Kazakh, Tuvian) and north-east (Buryat). A fraction of Khalkha (“Chakhar”) speakers are found on the Chinese side of the border (cf. Svantesson et al. 2005: 143).

In the present-day Mongolian state (except for Bajan-Ölgij Province with its Kazakh majority), Khalkha Mongolian is de facto the only official language, restricting Buryat, Oirat, Tuvian and Mongolian Sign Language to private settings. It is used at all levels of administration, education and media. Foreign movies are overdubbed in Mongolian. The assimilation of other dialects has en-

¹The correspondences between phonemes and their transcriptions are as follows: а-а, о-о, у-у, е-е, ө-ө, и-и, j-y, w-w, ¹-, p-b, p^h-p, t-d, t^h-t, k-g, г-г, k^h-k, ts-z, ts^h-c, tʃ-ž, tʃ^h-č, f-f, s-s, ʃ-š, x-x, m-m, n-n, ŋ-ŋ, ʎ-l, ʎ-lh, r-r.

²The Cyrillic letters were transcribed as follows: а-а, б-б, в-в, г-г, д-д, е-е, ё-ё, ж-ж, з-з, и-и, й-й, к-к, л-л, м-м, н-н, о-о, ө-ө, п-п, р-р, с-с, т-т, у-у, ү-ү, ф-ф, х-х, ц-ц, ч-ч, ш-ш, ь-ь, ы-ы, ь-ь, э-э, ю-ю, я-я.

riched the vocabulary of literary Khalkha, but this is much less notable for the spoken language. Ulaanbaatar Khalkha has developed an urban slang (Sambuudorž & Ėrdénésuvd 2002). The first foreign language learned in school is now English, and previously was Russian. These are also the most important donor languages for recent loanwords, while previously important donor languages include Turkic (neighboring tribes), Tibetan (religion) and Chinese (trade). Emigration is common, with larger communities e.g. in South Korea, the Czech Republic or Sweden (as manual labor force) or in the USA, Germany or China (as students and subsequent employees).

Khalkha Mongolian has the default word order subject-object-predicate. The relative order of subjects and direct objects is relatively loose, and repair strategies allow for arguments (esp. subjects) that follow the predicate. Subordinate clauses precede matrix clauses. Adverbials precede verbs, attributes (except some quantifiers) precede modified nouns, auxiliaries follow main predicates. All non-reduplicative affixing processes are suffixal and obey vowel harmony. Obligatory verbal suffixes yield three different verb form types: CONVERBS form adverbial clauses or connect clauses or verbs; finite uses in ellipsis or afterthought are possible to a limited extent. PARTICIPLES are used as attributes and sentence-finally. Only they and other nominals co-occur with modal particles and postposed negators. FINITE VERBS can only be used sentence-finally or before the quotative verb *ge-*. They are subdivided into declaratives (coding tense and evidentiality) and mood forms (imperatives and hortatives).

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation is marked by the postclitic =*güi* (orthographically <güj>, realized as [=gwaɪ], [=gwi:] or [-gʷa:] / [-gʷi:]), which attaches to participles, but not to finite verbs (an opposition that will be briefly discussed at the end of this section). It also functions as existential negator (see §2.3.2) and privative case (see §3.3.2), functions that are older than its predicate-negating use. As a standard negator, it usually attaches to a verbal predicate, as in (1) and (2). This includes auxiliaries other than the copular auxiliary verb *bai-* which are always connected to the main verb by converbal suffixes, e.g. *üz-ež amž-ax=güi* ‘don’t manage (in time) to see’. The negator =*güi* is classified here as a clitic since it still resists vowel harmony quite often (and consistently so in orthography).³ The second reason

³ In SC, a majority of critical examples is transcribed as conforming to vowel harmony. However, to ensure that these transcriptions are accurate, one would have to conduct systematic acoustic

is that the additive focus clitic =č ‘even, also’ can be used in-between participle and negator as in (3).

- (1) aaa teg-ež ix id-ex=küü.
 INJ do.like.that-CVB much eat-NPST.PTCP=NEG
 ‘Well, I won’t / don’t eat that much.’ (SC2: Z01-1)⁴
- (2) öglöön-ii xool id-ee=güü.
 morning-GEN meal eat-RES.PTCP=NEG
 ‘[I] haven’t eaten / didn’t eat breakfast.’ (SC2: Z08-7)
- (3) bii bol üz-ež amž-aa=č=güü.
 1SG TOP see-CVB succeed(in.time)-RES.PTCP=ADD.FOC=NEG
 ‘I have not even managed to see [that movie].’ (SC2: Z08-5)

The only morphological forms that can be negated by =güü as an original existential negator (cf. Veselinova 2014) are nominals. The only class of verbal flexional suffixes that allow for this negator are participial markers. There are four participial forms to which negative markers can attach. The negated non-past participle -x attached to activity verbs refers to events that at reference time are not prone to happen, including actions that the speaker doesn’t intend to commit as in (1). With some stative verbs, it refers to the absence of possibility, knowledge etc. as in (4). Verbs in -x cannot be used in absolute sentence-final position without any subsequent morphemes. Accordingly, -x=güü in negative sentences roughly corresponds to the suffix -n that expresses potential, sometimes habitually instantiated developments in positive sentences (unless it attaches to the copular auxiliary bai-). The negated habitual participle -dag in (5) indicates that a certain action does not take place habitually, repeatedly or as a disposition, thus merely negating its positive values. While -x=güü and -dag=güü may often replace one another (like -n and -dag in positives, see Brosig 2015a), they differ in their aspectual perspective, which is a non-occurring habitual development vs. a non-occurring potential development in the present. The negated “resultative participle” -aa=güü in (2) indicates that an event has not or not yet happened, while the negated “perfect participle” -saη=güü indicates that the event didn’t happen at a certain point in the past. However, -aa=güü has almost turned into a neutral way of negating past events, while -saη=güü is now largely restricted to contexts in

or perceptual phonetic measurements.

⁴ The cited source only contains the Mongolian example, while its glossing and translation were created specifically for this paper.

which the event can no longer take place in a way that would still be meaningful to the interlocutors.⁵ In (6), the elderly speaker with four daughters will not try to produce additional children. In (7), the TV anchor is introducing a fully prepared report during broadcasting, so he could no longer meaningfully change his mind about how to prepare it. Only *-aa=güi*, but not *-saṇ=güi* can be used in the scope of *bai-* (e.g. in the immediately perceived negated past *-aa=güi bai-n* in (12) below). In addition, *=güi* also negates the non-aspecto-temporal quasi-participles in *-maar* (intention)/*-xaar* (inclination), as in (8).

- (4) *deegii med-ex=küü.*
 NAME realize+know-NPST.PTCP=NEG
 ‘Deegii doesn’t know.’ (SC2: Z01-1)
- (5) *bii tax¹aan-ii max id-deg=güü.*
 1SG chicken-GEN meat eat-HAB.PTCP=NEG
 ‘I don’t eat chicken.’ (SC2: Z05-1)
- (6) *uulan=č xüü gara-g-č-ii ge-ž*
 actually=ADD.FOC son come.out-CAUS-COMPL-HORT QUOT-CVB
bod-žii-soṇ. gar-saṇ=güi.
 think-PROG-EST.PST come.out-PRF.PTCP=NEG
 ‘Actually, I was also thinking “Let’s get a son.” [But] I didn’t get one.’ (SC1: TH, Parik Jagaa)
- (7) *aa bid бүхeṇ bol (...) iṅg-ež beld-ii ge-ž*
 INJ 1PL all TOP (...) do.like.this-CVB prepare-HORT QUOT-CVB
bod-soṇ=güü.
 think-PRF.PTCP=NEG
 ‘[They usually speak in such a manner on TV programs, the TV programs usually prepare (this kind of interviews.)] Ah, as for our team, we didn’t think “Let’s (...) prepare it like this.”’ (SC1: Derik, Yanhan1)
- (8) *bii dax¹-až yum uu-maar=güü bai-n.*
 1SG do.again-CVB thing drink-wish.PTCP=NEG COP-IMM.PRS
 ‘I don’t want to drink more.’ (SC2: Z05-5)

⁵I partially follow Hashimoto (2007). However, he analyzes *-aa=güi* and *-saṇ=güi* as prototypes of equal status, thus failing to recognize their disparity in favor of *-aa=güi*. Several native speakers rejected his (38b) and a few other examples.

Participles are required for forming negated declarative, attributive and nominalized forms, while positive finite main clauses employ both finite and participial suffixes. For instance, in the past tense there is a distinction (in order of decreasing frequency) between an established past in *-saŋ*, immediate sensory and inferential pasts in *-laa* and *-ž(ee)*, an interrogative-leaning peripheral past in *-w* and a particle-assisted peripheral dubitative past in *-aa* (for which see Brosig 2015a, 2018, Brosig & Skribnik 2018). These distinctions, which among other things relate to evidentiality and time of acquisition, are lost under simple negation and replaced by the two-way distinction between *-aa* or *-saŋ* plus *=güi* that relates to completion. Overall, asymmetric negation in Mongolian entails the common loss of finiteness and TAME distinctions under negation (cf. Miestamo 2005).

Putative correspondences between positive and negative forms get even more complicated for aspectually complex constructions. In these, the copular auxiliary *bai-* follows a converbal or participial form of the main verb. The positive progressive takes the form *-ž bai-n* > *-žai-n* (for an immediately perceived event) or *-ž bai-gaa* > *-žai-gaa* (for an event already known to be taking place) as in (9). But if *=güi* is added directly to this latter form as in (10), the resulting sentence expresses that its subject has never experienced the event in a period that ranges from the past until the time of speech, i.e. a negated experiential perfect. A better candidate for a negated progressive is shown in (11) which expresses either that speaker B has observed the subject for a period of time and seen that s/he doesn't eat or that speaker B is drawing an inference to this effect from currently observable evidence. The marker *-n*, which indicates immediate perception when attached to the copula *bai-*, thus has the negation in its scope. On the other hand, the simple state of not having occurred yet as immediately observed by the speaker would be expressed by the pattern *-aa=güi bai-n* as in (12).⁶

- (9) öröön-d=öö yum id-žai-gaa.
 room-DAT=RPOSS thing eat-PROG-EST.PRS
 'He is eating something in his room.' (SC2: Z04-3)
- (10) xezee=č ard_tümeŋ (...) cad-tal=aa
 when=ADD.FOC people become.satiated-CVB(until)=RPOSS
 id-ež bai-gaa=güi.
 eat-CVB COP-RES.PTCP=NEG
 'Never have the people (...) been eating their fill.' (IC)

⁶In contrast to *-aa=güi bai-* ($n_{IC}=14390$, including false positives and repetitions), forms like *-saŋ=güi bai-* ($n_{IC}=29$) and *-saŋ bai-PTCP=güi* ($n_{IC}=3$ for *bai-gaa=güi* and $n_{IC}=16$ for *bai-dag=güi*) don't play a role in the Khalkha negation system.

- (11) A: ügü=ee, naa-d=čin xool=oo
 no=EMPH 2PROX.DEM-ATTR=2POSS meal=RPOSS
 B: ugaasaa id-ex=küü bai-n.
 fundamentally eat-NPST.PTCP=NEG COP-IMM.PRS
 ‘No, s/he doesn’t eat her meal at all (these days / as I currently realize).’ [A starts the sentence, B completes it.] (SC2: Z08-7)
- (12) Bi zöw ge-ž xel-ee=güi bai-n=l=daa.
 1SG correct QUOT-CVB say-RES.PTCP=NEG AUX-IMM.PRS=ADD.FOC=DP
 ‘I haven’t said (as you should realize) that it’s right/correct.’ (IC)

The way in which positive and negative TAME forms might, partially, correspond to each other cannot be discussed here in any detail. *Biš* as a negator of main clause predicates is discussed in §4.1, §4.6.2.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Among Khalkha non-declaratives, imperatives use distinct negators. Khalkha uses three imperative suffixes: plain -Ø, imploring -*aač*, and politely requesting -*aarai*. These are negated by the preverbal negation particles *bitgii* or rarely *büü*. The patterns in (13) and (14) illustrate simple and aspectually complex negated imperatives, while (15) illustrates their positive counterparts (though the first sentence in (15) actually fulfills a prohibitive function).

- (13) yanz yanz-iij nōx-düüd-iig bitgii aw-aač=ee.
 sort sort-GEN comrade-PL-ACC NEG take-IMP.IMPL=DP
 ‘Don’t bring along all kinds of guys!’ (SC1: Derik, Yanhan3)
- (14) bitgii ineedtei yum yar¹-aad bai-Ø!
 NEG ridiculous thing speak-PFV.CVB COP-IMP
 ‘Don’t keep on talking nonsense!’ (SC1: Derik, Yanhan3)
- (15) aa tenegt-eed bai-Ø! tegeed gudamž-ruu=gaa or-Ø!
 ah behave.stupidly-PFV.CVB COP-IMP then street-ALL=RPOSS enter-IMP
 ‘Ah, [just] keep on talking nonsense (I dare you)! Then get out onto your street!’ (SC2: Z08-1)

Positionally, *bitgii* is placed between the subject, if overt, and the predicate (cf. Yu 1991: 82–84). In (14), it precedes an indefinite direct object, in (13) it follows a specific direct object. Yu (1991: 87–88) claims that prohibitives can be embedded

if *bitgii* modifies a case-marked participle, but no such examples were found in IC. *Bitgii* and rarely *büü* are also used in connection with the desiderative suffix *-aasai*, e.g. *bitgii exl-eesei* ‘may it not begin’ (IC). First and third person hortatives (*-ii/-y=aa*, *-g*) don’t seem to combine with *bitgii*, but *büü V-ii* occurs in a few rare idioms. The intention of a first person not to commit an action can be expressed by a negated nonpast participle in the scope of *bai-y* as in (16).

- (16) Getel ter=maan genet xoy-uul=aa ger büü
 but that=STC suddenly two-COLL=RPOSS family
 bol-tl=oo seks xii-x=güi bai-y ge-seŋ.
 become-NPST.PTCP=NEG sex do=NPST.PTCP AUX-HORT QUOT-EST.PST
 ‘But suddenly s/he said: “Let’s not have sex until we marry.”’ (IC)

The old imperative negator *büü* is rarely used, occasionally showing up in solemn exhortations like *büü mart-aarai* ‘Don’t forget!’ or *büü ai-Ø* ‘Don’t fear!’. It is the only option in the idiomatic “pseudo prohibitive” pattern *büü med-Ø* ‘no clue’ (cf. Yu 1991: 73–74).

Negated interrogatives, by contrast, are participles modified by negators and question particles, i.e. they use the same type of negator as declaratives. Functionally, negated questions in *=güi=yüü* cover a range from exhortations as in (17) to guesses and rhetorical questions. Questions formed with *biš=üü* ‘isn’t it so that’ (based on the ascriptive negator *biš*) cover a range from guesses as in (18) to rhetorical questions as in (19) (cf. Bjangbasan 2001: 14, 18).

- (17) nem-eed piiw uu-č-x=güi=yüü? aay
 ADD-PFV.CVB beer drink-COMPL-NPST.PTCP=NEG=Q.PL R INJ
 ‘Drink some more beer, won’t you?’ (SC2: Khalkha0018)
- (18) či xar¹aŋ tur-c=iin biš=üü?
 2SG but become.thin-COMPL.EST.PST=ASRT NEG=Q.PL R
 ‘But haven’t you become thinner?’ (SC2: Z08-7)
- (19) en xar¹aŋ goy yum biš=üü?
 this but nice thing/ASRT NEG=Q.PL R
 ‘But ain’t this (a) nice (thing)?’ (SC2: Z08-9)

One common way of forming alternative questions is to combine a regular polar question with (*ü*)*güi*, here still used as a clause-forming negative particle, plus the interrogative clitic *=uu* as in (20). Instead of (*ü*)*güi*, full verbs negated by *=güi* can sometimes be used. *Güi=yüü* is also used when following up a declarative with a tag question as in (21).

- (20) budaa xii-xžii-n=uu **güi=yüü?**
 rice make-PROSP-IMM.PRS=Q.PLR NEG=Q.PLR
 ‘Are you about to prepare rice or not?’ (SC1: TH, Ganbaatar)
- (21) am^ɪdral saixan bai-n **güi yuu?**
 life beautiful COP-IMM.PRS NEG Q.PLR
 ‘Life is beautiful, isn’t it?’ (SC1: TH, Ganbaatar)

2.3 Negation in stative predications

2.3.1 Ascriptive predications

In stative non-temporal non-verbal ascriptive predications (cf. [Veselinova 2013: 110–111](#), following [Hengeveld 1992](#)), the only negator is *biš* (< ‘other’). It denies nominal predications such as identity in (22) or proper inclusion. In positive predications, *biš* corresponds to zero, see the second sentence of (22). Identity predications occasionally employ the existential-identificational particle *mön* ‘same’ to confirm identity, but this in turn can be denied by *mön biš* ‘not the same’.

- (22) aan, enxbayar **biš**. en pürewžaw.
 ah NAME NEG this NAME
 ‘Ah, [it] is not Enkhbayar. It is Purevjav.’ (SC2: Khalkha0001)

For negating generic or permanent adjectival property predications, *biš* is the most common negator. It denies that a proposition holds, for whatever reason, as in (23). Relatively rarely, *=güi* is used instead of *biš*. It signals that a property is absent or present to a lesser extent ([Saranggüü-a 2007: 43](#)) as in (24). This pattern is skewed heavily towards certain stems, e.g. it is much more frequent with *saiŋ* ‘good’ ($n_{IC}=256$) than with *saixan* ‘beautiful’ ($n_{IC}=8$) or *goi* ‘nice, pretty’ ($n_{IC}=0$).

- (23) BB: ‘Gambling is bad.’
 A: ügü=ee, muu **biš=ee**.
 NEG=EMPH bad NEG=EMPH
 ‘No, it is not bad (at all) [but more exciting].’ (SC2: Khalkha0017)
- (24) man-ai xos bid xoyor bas muu=**güi** šüü.
 1PL-GEN pair 1PL two also bad=NEG DP
 ‘[You think you can take the price?] The two of us are not bad either.’ (IC)

In predications that overtly specify aspect, tense, time of acquisition or evidentiality, non-verbal predicates are followed by the copular auxiliary verb *bai-*. In this setting, *biš* or (only with adjectives) *=güi* may attach to the nominal, so that a negative state is located in time (or qualified epistemologically) as in (25a). Alternatively, the copula verb can be negated. This is normally done by the standard negator *=güi* as in (25b), claiming that a positive situation did not occur at the specified point in time. Alternatively, negating the copula with *biš* would deny a potential conceptualization of the situation as accurate and point to an alternative as in (25c) (cf. §4.1, §4.6.2).

- (25) a. *Xarʼaŋ bi beleŋ biš bai-saŋ yum.*
 but 1SG ready NEG COP-EST.PST ASRT
 ‘But I was not ready.’ (IC)
- b. *Tüüx-eŋ en öörčölöŋt-öd bidn-ii xeŋ=č beleŋ*
 history-ATTR this change-DAT 1PL-GEN who=ADD.FOC ready
bai-gaa=güi.
 COP-RES.PTCP=NEG
 ‘For this historical change, none of us was ready (yet).’ (IC)
- c. *Odoo-güiŋ-x šig бүх yum beleŋ bai-saŋ biš.*
 now-GEN-NMLZ like all thing ready COP-PRF.PTCP NEG
 ‘[We would write our play. For every role, we would make a picture of the intended clothes and sew it.] It is not that all things were readily available, like it is today.’⁷

2.3.2 Locative, possessive and existential predications

In Khalkha, the locative pattern is also used as the main possessive pattern which is preferably used with topicalized possessa. In (26), both the “existential” ~ inverse locational (cf. Creissels 2014: 1) interpretation in (26a) and the possessive interpretation in (26b) are possible since the dative-marked noun can be interpreted as either a location (a shop as a place) or a possessor (a shop as a corporation). In (27), the spatial demonstrative can only bear locational meaning, while the dative-marked person pronoun in (28) is normally conceptualized as a possessor. In all of these examples, a participial form of the copula *bai-* is negated, the possessed or located entity is in the unmarked nominative, and the possessor/location receives dative-locative case.

⁷Ž. Tujaacécég: Zarimdaa jamar ix tëvčéertěj jum bè gěž boddog. Interview with the wife of the high-ranking politician M. Ènxbold) <http://www.olloo.mn/n/43845.html>, online 2017-6-20, retrieved 2019-3-16

- (26) Delgüür-t dawsn-aas öör yum **bai-x=güi**...
 shop-DAT salt-ABL other thing COP-HAB.PTCP=NEG
 a. ‘In the shop, there is nothing but salt.’ (IC, decontextualized)
 b. ‘The shop doesn’t have (~sell) anything but salt.’
- (27) Aztaŋ bol-soŋ Xišigsaixaŋ=maan odoo-goor end
 lucky.winner become-PRF.PTCP NAME=1POSS now-INS here
bai-x=güi[.]
 COP-NPST.PTCP=NEG
 [A photo shows a woman around 55 standing in front of a rack with new shoes and holding a paper bag with something inside. The text below reads:] ‘The winner, Khishigsaikhan, is currently not here. [Her mother came and took her present. Congratulations again!],’⁸
- (28) A: čam-d tamag **bai-x=kuu** biz=dee?
 2SG-DAT ace COP-NPST.PTCP=NEG DP=DP
 ‘You don’t have an ace, do you?’
 B: **bai-x=kuu**.
 COP-NPST.PTCP=NEG
 ‘No, I don’t.’ (SC2: Khalkha0018)

Instead of the nonpast participle *baixgüi*, it is also possible to use the young locative-possessive negator *alag* ‘absent/missing’ as in (29). As a predicate, it indicates that an entity is absent despite the speaker’s expectation or wish, that the entity is temporarily absent or that an intention is absent (see the excellent functional account of Umetani 2004, summarized in English in Brosig 2015b: 97–98; for its morphology, see Mönx-Amgalan 1999). The old existential negator *üggüi* is sometimes still used if preceded by the additive focus particle as in (30), but without a clitic, as in (31), this pattern is exceedingly rare. To convey non-existence without regard for location, speakers often add a converbal form of the quotative verb *ge-* in its naming function as in (32). However, this is not required if the non-existing entity is designated by a complex attribute as in (33). The positive equivalents of (26) and (32) would use habitual *bai-dag*, and (27–29) would use established present *bai-gaa*, without *yamar=č* in (29).

⁸<https://www.globuya.com/MN/Dalan-Zadagad/Өмнөговь-”emerald”-Гутлын-Дэлгүүр>, retrieved 2020-2-13

- (29) nadad yamar=č zaw alac.
1SG.DAT what.kind=ADD.FOC free.time absent
'I don't have any time at all.' (SC1: Derik, Yanhan2)
- (30) ... üül=č ügüi, boroo=č ügüi ...
cloud=ADD.FOC NEG rain=ADD.FOC NEG
'... there were no clouds and there was no rain ...' (Bjambasan 2001: 9,
quoting the writer D. Nacagdorž)
- (31) Xorwoo delxii-d tüün-ees=min sain, saixan xün ügüi
(fleeting)world globe-DAT that-ABL-1POSS good beautiful person NEG
bai-san.
COP-EST.PST
'In the [entire] world, there was no better, more wonderful person than
him/her.' (IC)
- (32) burxan ge-ž bai-x=güi.
god QUOT-CVB COP-NPST.PTCP=NEG
'There is no god.' (lit. 'What is called "God" is not.')
- (33) man-ai dorž-iig güic-ex xün bai-x=gü=ee.
1PL-GEN NAME-ACC match-NPST.PTCP person COP-NPST.PTCP=NEG=EMPH
'There's nobody who matches our Dorj [in card games].' (SC2: Z08-7)

Possession can also be expressed by a construction that uses nominative possessors. Possesseees are marked by either comitative-possessive or privative case as in (34). The use of *alag* in this pattern, which for most speakers requires dative-marked possessors, is apparently non-standard, but not uncommon if a dummy noun *yum* with a preceding participial construction is the possessed, as in (35) (see also Brosig 2015b: 101).

- (34) öör=öö möng=güü, ör-tei yuu ta?
self=RPOSS money-PRIV debt-COM Q.PLR 2SG.HON
'Are you without money and with debts?' (SC1: TH, Parik Jagaa)
- (35) tan-ai cai wol ünen-d=ee (.) yarⁱ-ax yum alag
2SG-GEN tea TOP truth-DAT=RPOSS speak-NPST.PTCP thing absent
'There is truly nothing [bad] to say about your tea.' (SC1: TH, Ganbaatar)

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

2.4.1 Attributive and argument clauses

In attributive and nominalized clauses, the distinction between the negated incomplete past in *-aa=güi* and the negated completed past in *-saŋ=güi* is lost. Only forms in *-aa=güi* are used as attributes as in (36) or as nominalized argument clauses as in (37). Habitual *-dag=güi*, nonpast *-x=güi*, *-xaar=güi* ‘not likely to’ and nominal attributes in *=güi* are common, too. Contrastive attributes with adjectival, participial etc. predicates negated by *biš* as in (38) are rare, and attributes in *biš* without a contrasting positive form are even less common. For adjectives and nouns, this latter function is sometimes fulfilled by *bus* (see §3.3.1). Direct nominalizations of *biš* as in (39) are very rare.

- (36) tan-ii xairl-aa=**kuu** xüüxed tan-iig ilüü
 2SG.HON-GEN love-RES.PTCP=NEG child 2SG.HON-ACC more
 xairal-žii-n=aa.
 love-PROG-IMM.PRS=HON
 ‘The child that you didn’t love is loving you more [than your other son].’
 (SC2: Z04-2)
- (37) X¹atad-ad bai-dag naiz-uud ir-ee=**güi**-g med-ež
 China-DAT COP-HAB.PTCP friend-PL come-RES.PTCP=NEG-ACC know-CVB
 bai-gaa.
 COP-EST.PRS
 ‘[I] know that the friends who are in China have/did not come.’ (IC)
- (38) Muu **biš**, sain tal-iin šüümžlel erg-eed ür_düng=ee
 bad NEG good side-GEN critique turn-PFV.CVB result=RPOSS
 ög-dög yum bai-n.
 give-HAB.PTCP ASRT COP-IMM.PRS
 ‘Not bad, but good critique gives results in return.’ (IC)
- (39) Bi tiim=č xel am-tai, eldew aaš-tai büsgüi
 1SG such=ADD.FOC tongue mouth-COM various character-COM woman
biš šüü. Xöörxöŋ **biš**-iig ud-ax=güi xar-aarai za.
 NEG DP cute NEG-ACC take.long-NPST.PTCP=NEG see-IMP(HON) TAG
 ‘I’m really not such a gossipy, ill-tempered woman. [But] take a look at
 [the one who] is not pretty [=me] soon, okay?’ (IC)

2.4.2 Negation in adverbial clauses

Khalkha Mongolian has inherited a large number of converbs. Due to the demise of preverbal negation, these cannot be negated directly, but a number of strategies have evolved that circumvent this issue. Firstly, the converbal suffix may attach to the copula *bai-*, while the negator attaches to the main verb as in (40a), as compared to positive (40b). This entails specific aspectual meaning, namely, reference to an ongoing time period. Secondly, aspectually neutral subordinating conjunctions as in (41) may be used. Conjunctions are preceded by the same set of negated attributive forms that modify nouns (see §2.4.1).⁹ In rare cases that involve conditionals, writers may also choose to retain the old preverbal negator (see discussion on *es* in §3.3.1). Finally, some forms cannot be negated. This includes converbs in *-ŋguut* as in (42) which express that the matrix clause action takes place as soon as the subordinate clause action occurs. The progressive-stative interpretation of using a negated participle with *bai-* is incompatible with its punctual meaning (hence *V-PTCP=*güi bai-ŋguut* is unattested). No conjunctions that involve this medium-frequency suffix seem to have evolved.

- (40) a. *usl-ax-guu* *bai-wal* (...) *ösölt=ön*
 water-NPST.PTCP-NEG COP-COND.CVB growth=3POSS
 zogs-n=oo=doo.
 stop-POT=HON=DP
 ‘If you are not watering it (over a period of time), its growth will stop.’
 (SC1: BTV, 16 nemex)
- b. *usal-ž* *bai-wal*
 water-CVB COP-COND.CVB
 ‘if you are watering it’ (constructed)
- (41) *uulz-ax-guu* *bol al-an* *x¹ad-an.*
 meet-NPST.PTCP-NEG if kill-POT massacre-POT
 ‘If [you] don’t meet up [with us], [we] will kill [you].’ (SC1: Derik, Gazar)
 cf. *uulz-wal* ... ‘if [you] meet up [with us]’ (constructed)
- (42) *utg-ii=n* *ol-onguut=aa* *nad-ad šuud*
 meaning-ACC=3POSS find-CVB(as.soon.as)=RPOSS 1SG-DAT direct
 xel-žai-gaa *baixkuuyuu.*
 say-PROG-EST.PRS DP
 ‘Once [he] understands its meaning, [he] directly tells me, you see.’ (SC2:

⁹Historically, conjunctions evolved from verbs (*bol* ‘if’ < *bol-bol* become-COND.CVB, via haplology), nouns (*učr-aas* ‘because’ < reason-ABL) or are intransparent (*tul* < *tula* ‘because’).

Z08-7)

There is also a special negative converbal suffix *-lgüi*. Diachronically, it consists of the deverbal noun-forming suffix *-l* (e.g. *medr-* ‘feel’ > *medr-el* ‘perception’) and the standard negator in its (older) use as a privative case =*güi*, but it can be formed from verbs to which simple *-l* does not attach and it cannot be used attributively (Bjambasan 1985). It expresses that one action took place without another action being undertaken as in (43). Its use is partially similar to the negated nonpast participle *-x=güi* in its adverbial use shown in (44) which specifies that the subordinate action was not started throughout the main action. The adverbial status of a predication is sometimes clarified by attaching the instrumental case to participles as in (45), nouns, or even unambiguous converbs in *-lgüi*. The precise circumstances under which participles negated by =*güi* can be used as adverbials are not fully clear.

- (43) *ertn-ii en urlag (...) žinxen utg=aa ald-**algüi** bidn-ii*
 early-GEN this art real meaning=RPOSS lose-NEG.CVB 1PL-GEN
önöö-giin cag-t ulamžl-agd-aŋ ir-seŋ.
 now-GEN time-DAT inherit-PASS-MNR.CVB come-EST.PST
 ‘This old art form has (...) been passed down to us without losing its real meaning.’ (SC1: BTV, 16 nemex)

- (44) *en (...) šön unt-uul-**kuu** uil-aad*
 this night sleep-CAUS-NPST.PTCP.NEG cry-PFV.CVB
bai-x=iin.
 COP-NPST.PTCP=ASRT
 ‘S/he keeps on crying all night without [ever] allowing [you] to sleep.’
 (SC2: Z07-6)

- (45) *Texeer en бүгд-iiг xel-küü-**geer** unt-až bol*
 thus this all-ACC say-NPST.PTCP.NEG-INS sleep-CVB TOP
čad-kuu=n bai-n=aa.
 can-NPST.PTCP.NEG COP-IMM.PRS=HON
 ‘Accordingly, I feel that I cannot sleep without telling [you] all this.’ (SC1: TH, Badaruugan)

In a closely related pattern, negated participles collocate with several auxiliary-like matrix verbs, depicting the state of the subject during the passage of time. For resultative participles, the most common of these quasi-auxiliaries is *ud-* ‘take time, endure’ as in (46), for nonpast participles it is *yaw-* ‘go (forth, on etc.)’.

- (46) *bii yöröösöö uu-gaa-guu ud-žii-n=aa.*
 1SG at.all drink-RES.PTCP-NEG take.time-PROG-IMM.PRS=HON
 ‘I’ve not been drinking at all for a long time.’ (lit. ‘[It] is taking a long time with I not drinking at all.’) (SC2: Z05-3)

Negated (non-clausal) adjectival adverbials seem to be dispreferred, but if they are formed, the negator is mostly =*güi* as in (47) rather than *biš*.

- (47) *Xüite-wter us (...) caŋgaa-g muu=güi tail-dag.*
 cold-DIM water thirst-ACC bad=NEG relieve.of-HAB.PTCP
 ‘Coldish water quenches thirst quite well.’ (IC)

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Among apparent lexicalizations of negative concepts, the only word that does not contain a known negator (besides *alac* ‘absent’, see §2.3.2) is the verb *yad-* ‘be unable to, to bungle something up’ (< ‘be in dire straits’, cf. *yaduu* ‘poor’). However, *yad-* is restricted to a fixed set of collocations, of which only *üz-en yad-* ‘cannot see > hate’ is common. Other collocations such as *tes-č yad-* ‘cannot endure’ or *učr=aa ol-ž yad-* ‘cannot find one’s cause’ are confined to written style.

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

When providing an informative answer to regular open [and, in particular, alternative] questions, it is possible to answer with a verb echoing the question, either in positive or negated form (cf. Guntsetseg 2016: 21–22), and with or without additional arguments. As seen in (48), these answers still function as assertions of their own right, since the addressee is free to switch aspectual forms, in this case answering not that he doesn’t drink habitually, as asked, but that he doesn’t drink at all. Alternatively, positive items such as adjectival *tiim(ee)* and its interjectional forms *te ~ tx* ‘such’ as well as *mxm* (predominantly used for signaling attentiveness) or negative items like the existential adjective into particle (*ü*)*güi* can be used in interjection-type answers, particularly to confirm (Binnick 2011: 94–95) or contradict presumptive questions as in (49) or affirm or reject assertions as in (50). While a proper quantitative comparison of answer strategies in SC cannot be undertaken in this paper, some preliminary checks suggest that interjection-type patterns such as *güü* in (49b) and *ügüü* in (50b) as compared

to the verb in (48b) are overall more frequent. A similar observation has been offered by Enfield et al. 2019 for most languages of their convenience sample.

- (48) a. ar¹ax uu-dag=uu?
 liquor drink-HAB.PTCP=Q.PLR
 ‘Do you drink liquor?’
 b. uu-x=güi
 drink-NPST.PTCP=NEG
 ‘No.’ (cf. *uu-dag*: ‘Yes.’) (SC1: TH, Ganbaatar)
- (49) a. ter (.) baicaa=n x¹amd-xaŋ bai-dag biz=dee?
 that cabbage=3POSS cheap-DIM AUX-HAB.PTCP MP=DP
 ‘That cabbage is usually cheap, right? [I claim, you will agree.]’
 b. güü, xar¹aŋ ün-tei wai-n. xil=en dörwöm m¹aŋg.
 no but price-COM AUX-IMM.PRS kg=3POSS four thousand
 ‘No, but [just the opposite], it’s expensive. One kilo of it is 4000.’
 (SC2: Z01-1)
- (50) a. bii kolon bol-on ge-ž yöröösöö
 1SG colony become-POT QUOT-CVB on.the.whole
 yar¹-aa-guu=šdee.
 say-RES.PTCP-NEG=DP
 ‘I didn’t say at all that [Mongolia] would become a colony [then].’
 b. ügüü=šdee. say či tex-s=ii=šd.
 no=DP recently 2SG do.like.that-EST.PST=ASRT=DP
 ‘No, you just said so.’ (SC2: Z08-7)

Orders, requests or suggestions to act can be accepted by *za* ‘well’ (see Pürev-Očir 2009) or declined by (*ü*)*güi* as in (51), and sole *bitgii* as in (52) can be used to prevent the interlocutor from acting. If the goal is to correct the addressee and give an unmediated alternative explanation, *biš* (< ‘other’) can be used instead, as in (53). The interjection used for negative replies and a subsequent negative explication don’t have to use the same form: In (54), the speaker objects to the addressee’s statement using *biš*, but follows it up with an assertion in standard negation.

- (51) a. bii xamt xii-č-ii!
 1SG together do-COMPL-HORT
 ‘I shall prepare it together [with you]!’

- b. **güi bitgii** xamt xii-Ø!
 no NEG together do-IMP
 ‘No, don’t prepare it together [with me]!’ (SC1: TH, Parik Jagaa)
- (52) **Ügüi**, yaa-ž teg-ež bol-dog yum!? **Bitgii!**
 no do.what-CVB do.like.that-CVB may-HAB.PTCP ASRT NEG
 Či=min^j taiwšir-Ø!
 2SG=1POSS become.calm-IMP
 ‘No, how could one do such a thing!? Don’t! Calm down, my dear!’¹⁰
- (53) a. **nöxör-tei** yum=uu čii?
 husband-COM ASRT=Q.PLR 2SG
 ‘Do you [thus] have a husband?’
 b. **biš=ee**, man-ai naiz.
 no=EMPH 1PL-GEN friend
 ‘No, [this is just] my friend.’ (SC1: Derik, Yanhan2)
- (54) BB: ‘Now I can play a five!’
 A: **biš=ee**, iŋg-ež gar-kuu.
 no=EMPH do.like.this-CVB come.out-NPST.PTCP.NEG
 ‘No, you don’t play [your cards] like this.’ (SC2: Khalkha0017)

When answering negative questions, the responder seems to be using different strategies in different communicative situations. In several conversational contexts, the responders match the polarity of the question in their answers. For instance, to a biased question intended to elicit a positive answer, the responder can retain her position via denial using (*ü*)*güi* as in (55) or concede with an answer like *xar^{jaŋ} teg-seŋ* ‘indeed I did so’. This encompasses negative questions with *biš=üü* ‘isn’t it so that’ as in (56). If the question is meant to suggest a course of action e.g. for a third person, the responder can express disagreement via (*ü*)*güi* or agree by forms like *tii=š=d* ‘precisely’. However, the situation is different if the asker is perplexed between two conflicting pieces of information and uses a more or less open negative question to seek confirmation for the newly acquired position that the event did actually not happen. In this case, the responder may agree with the asker’s underlying negative presupposition by using plain *tiiŋ* ‘yes, in

¹⁰Xolboony surguulijn ulaan dèelt xuv’ zajaagaa urlagtaj xolbosen tüüx (interview with actress Lxamžavyn Dolgor shortly after her 90th birthday by L.Dëmidbaatar) <http://entertainment.mongolnews.mn/Архив/tdq>, published 2012-12-19, retrieved 2019-03-09

this way’ as in (57), while using (*ü*)*güi* to confirm the negation would be precariously ambiguous, though this could be resolved by adding a negated verb form like *med-küü*. If the responder instead wants to contest the negative proposition of the asker, she can immediately answer with assertive forms like reduplicated *med-n=ee med-en* ‘[they] know it alright’ or *xar¹aŋ med-en* ‘yeah, [they] indeed know it’. If the responder considers the asker’s doubt as unjustified, a sharper, more authoritative answer would be *med-ii=š=d*.

(55) A: ‘How come you brand people as thieves?’

B: ‘Brand people as thieves?’

ta say end-ees xulgai xii-gee=**güi** yuu?

2SG.HON recently here-ABL theft do-RES.PTCP Q.PLR

‘Have you not just stolen [something] from here?’

A: **gü=ee**, zügeer yum son¹orx-oo=l

no=EMPH just thing be.interested.in-PFV.CVB=LIM.FOC

yaw-žii-[n]=šd.

go-PROG-IMM.PRS=DP

‘No, I was just walking around looking at (lit. being interested in) things.’ (SC1: Derik, Narantuul)

(56) A: I was walking alone.

B: xoy-uul=aa yaw-žii-s=iin **biš=üü?**

two=COLL=RPOSS go-PROG-EST.PST=ASRT NEG=Q.PLR

‘Wasn’t it rather the case that you were walking as a pair?’

A: **gü=ee** **güü**.

no=EMPH no

‘No, no.’ (SC1: Derik, Narantuul)

(57) A: xüŋ med-**küü** yuu?

person know-NPST.PTCP.NEG Q.PLR

‘[So] people don’t know [about this]?’

B: tiŋ.

such

‘Yes [they don’t know].’ (SC1: Derik, Yanhan1)

Rather than using interjections or negated verbs, a construction that is occasionally used in negative answers is by using the non-reduced form of the old existential negator *ügüi* plus copula as in (58) and (59). These clauses are used to

state, from immediately accessed evidence, that something is or was not the case, i.e. that a negative state obtains. These small pro-clauses may start with sentence adverbials and end in modal particles, but contain no arguments.

- (58) A: gurl=an tomd-ood bai-n=uu güi=yüü?
 flour=3POSS get.too.big-PFV.CVB COP-IMM.PRS=Q.PLR NEG=Q.PLR
 ‘Is the flour getting too big or not?’

B: ügüi bai-n.
 NEG COP-IMM.PRS
 ‘It is not.’ (SC2: Z07-5)

- (59) Iııxüü asuudal šiid-egd-seı=üü ge-wel ügüi
 such problem decide-PASS-EST.PST=Q.PLR QUOT-COND.CVB NEG
 bai-n.
 COP-IMM.PRS
 ‘If one were to state whether this question has been decided, it is not the case.’ (IC)

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Khalkha lacks specific negative indefinites. Positive indefinites are recruited from a few regular nouns (*yum* ‘(some)thing’, cf. (9)) or formed from interrogative pronouns by adding *neg-eı* ‘one-ATTR’ (e.g. *xer neg-eı* ‘somebody, anybody’) or the additive focus clitic =č ‘even, also’ (*xer=č* ‘anybody’) (cf. Janhunen 2012: 132–133, cf. also 67–68; for =č under negation also see Hashimoto 2009), as in (60). These forms are then used together with a regular verbal negator, as in (61). =č-based indefinites most often occur under negation, while *negeı*-based indefinites are more common in positive sentences, but show up in a limited set of negative contexts, particularly when the set of possible referents is restricted and topical as in (62). With quantifiers under negation as in (63), the use of =č is optional.

- (60) Xii-seı xerg=ee xer=č üür-ex yos-toi
 do-PRF.PTCP deed=RPOSS who=ADD.FOC load-NPST.PTCP custom-COM
 biz=dee.
 MP=DP

‘Anyone should take responsibility for what s/he did, right?’ (IC)

- (61) bidn-ii xer=č orolc-oo=güi
 1PL-GEN who=ADD.FOC participate-RES.PTCP=NEG
 ‘... none of us has taken part...’ (IC)

- (62) Gexdee az bol-ž **xeŋ neg-ŋ=en** bertel gemtel
 but luck become-CVB who one-ATTR=3POSS injury damage
 aw-aa=**güi** yum bai-n.
 take-RES.PTCP=NEG ASRT AUX-IMM.PRS
 ‘But fortunately, apparently **none of them** [i.e., the aforementioned
 reporters that were staying at the hotel] got injured [in the course of the
 armed robbery].’ (IC)
- (63) **ganc=ač** xanz med-ex=güü bai-ž ...
 single=ADD.FOC hanzi know-NPST.PTCP=NEG COP-CVB
 ‘Not knowing **even a single** Chinese character, ...’ (SC2: Khalkha0001)

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

3.3.1 Negative derivation

There are several lexicalized expressions that involve old or current negators. Most are analytic and contain the old preverbal standard negators *es* and *ül* or the old ascriptive negator *bus*. Some are morphologically derived from or via *ügüi* or from *biš*.

The old imperfective/non-past negator *ül* ($n_{IC} \leq 9121$) is still somewhat common in negative expressions related to willful disregard (e.g. *ül too-* ‘disregard’, *ül xargalzan* ‘without regard for’, *ül xündetg-* / *ül xündl-* ‘disrespect’, cf. also *ül xamaar-* ‘be independent of’) or (often legligent) failure to realize (*ül med-* / *ül medegd-* ‘not realize / not be perceived’, *ül oilg-* / *ül oišoo-* ‘not understand’, *ül tanⁱ-* ‘not recognize’, *ül itg-* ‘disbelieve’, *ül aŋxaar-* ‘not notice’). In addition, it also forms part of the non-inflecting lexicalizations *ül xödlöx* (*ed xöröŋg*) ‘immovable (property)’ and *ül baram* ‘not likely to stop with > not only but also’.

The old perfective/past negator *es* is 3.5 times less frequent ($n_{IC} \leq 2631$), and its distribution appears to be less systematic. Its use in a few verbal expression like *es zöwšöör-* ‘disagree/reject’, phrasal idioms like *tus-iig es ol-* ‘not find help’ or an adverbial like *xüs-seŋ=č es xüs-sen=č* wish-PRF.PTCP+ADD.FOC NEG wish-PRF.PTCP=ADD.FOC ‘nolens volens’ is relatively uncommon, and it is only used in a few fixed legal expressions such as *es üilde-xüi* NEG perform-DVN ‘inaction’ or *šašan šütex, es šütex erx* ‘right to worship and not to worship (i.e. freedom of religion)’. However, it is relatively common with petrified conditional converbs in *-wal* (< *-ba=la* -PST=LIM.FOC) turned discourse markers such as the clause-connective *-iig es toocwol* ‘if one discounts that ...’ or the sentence adverbials *es tegwees* / *es tegwel* ‘if one does not do like that’. Conditional negation is the only

area in which the closely related Oirat variety Kalmyk retained its cognate of *es* in active usage (Baranova 2019: 27–31). This also includes the frequent conjunction *eswel* ~ *esxül* ‘or’ (< ‘if it is not’). This and the existence of the historical unclear form *esex* ‘or not’ in subordinate clauses (see §4.5) suggest a historical verb stem *es-*, but this is probably a fallacy (see Brosig 2015b: 89–90).

The old existential negator *ügüi* is part of several derived or lexicalized forms, e.g. as stem in *ügüi-l-* ‘miss (somebody)’ and *ügüi-sg-* ‘deny’, as independent word in *ügüi bol-* ‘become absent / die’ (cf. *alag bol-* ‘disappear’), or as privative in complex forms such as *ažal-güi-d-el* ‘unemployment’ (cf. the rare *ažal-güi-d-* ‘be unemployed’ etc.), *noir-güi-d-el* ‘sleeplessness’, *ür-güi-d-el* ‘childlessness’ or *büt-el-güi-t-* succeed-V>N-NEG-N>V.INTR- ‘fail’. Forms derived from *biš* such as *biš-d-* ‘go wrong’, by contrast, are relatively rare. The combined *biš-güi* ‘plentiful’ in (64) might originally have been conceptualized from ‘without other’, i.e. without anything comparable [in quantity] (see Bjambasan 2001: 9–10, 14–15 for additional forms derived from *ügüi* and *biš*).

- (64) Ger_bül-d iim margaan **bišgüi** gar-dag.
 family-DAT such quarrel plentiful emerge-HAB.PTCP
 ‘In a family, this kind of quarrel comes up abundantly.’ (IC)

Bus, which is cognate with *biš* (< *busi*), is exceedingly common as a negator in recent official and especially administrative terms in attributive use. In these collocations, the first part is an adjective or noun, either bare or with a case suffix (genitive *-iin*, attributive *-an*, short comitative-possessive *-t*). The modified noun may be fixed as in *tör-iin bus baiguulag* state.power-GEN NEG organization ‘non-governmental organization’ or semantically delimited as in *eelž-et bus xural / xuraldaan / čuulgan / soncuul* ‘irregular meeting / gathering / assembly / election’. Some expressions allow for a wider range of modified nouns, e.g. *ašg-iin (tölöö) bus* profit-GEN (for) NEG ‘non-profit’, *xaraa-t bus* ‘independent’ or *xüč-eŋ tögöldör bus* ‘invalid’. There are also some official-sounding, but non-administrative collocations like *šudrag bus* ‘dishonest/unfair’, *erüül bus* ‘unhealthy’ and the highly frequent *todorxoi bus* ‘unclear’. Finally, there are the two colloquial collocations *neg bus udaa* ‘more than once’ and *bas bus* also NEG ‘this and that’. For terms ending in *bus*, predicative uses are highly dispreferred.

3.3.2 Negative case and negative adjectives

In one of its oldest attested functions, *=güi* may function as a privative that marks the absence of an entity. It is used adverbially (65), attributively (66) or sentence-

finally, namely in the possessive construction discussed in (34). The comitative-possessive case *-tai* is used to create roughly equivalent positive patterns. Adjectives are uncommon with the privative (see the discussion about (24)).

- (65) ta nar solonġos-ruu wiz=**güi** yaw-dag yum=uu?
 2 PL Korea-ALL visa=PRIV go-HAB.PTCP ASRT=Q.PLR
 ‘Can you thus enter Korea without visa?’ (SC2: Khalkha0001)
- (66) man-ai-x=čan wiz=**güi** orn-uud-tai, zöndöö=šdee.
 1PL-GEN-NMLZ=STC visa=PRIV country-PL-COM lots.of=DP
 ‘Ours [=Our people] have visa-free countries, lots of them!’ (SC2: Khalkha0001)

Several nouns that denote concepts like social obligation and inclination can via comitative and privative suffixes be derived into pairs of “modal adjectives”, as shown in (67).

- | | | | | |
|------|-------------------------|---------------|---|--------------------|
| (67) | <i>xereg-tei/güi</i> | ‘necessity’ | > | ‘(not) need to’ |
| | <i>yos-toi/güi</i> | ‘custom’ | > | ‘ought to/mustn’t’ |
| | <i>šaardlac-tai/güi</i> | ‘requirement’ | > | ‘(not) have to’ |
| | <i>bolomž-toi/güi</i> | ‘possibility’ | > | ‘(im)possible’ |
| | <i>dur-tai/güi</i> | ‘desire’ | > | ‘(dis)like to’ |
| | <i>xüsel-tei/güi</i> | ‘wish’ | > | ‘(not) wish to’ |
| | <i>sanaa-tai/güi</i> | ‘intention’ | > | ‘(not) intend to’ |

Modal adjectives are used as regular adjectives (68) or convey modality for a preceding verb in the nonpast participle (69). They can be followed by a copula for additional TAME marking. A few adjective pairs only have adjectival uses, e.g. *ašag-tai/güi* ‘profit’ > ‘(dis)advantageous’ and *xamaa-tai/güi* ‘relevance [only found in existential clauses]’ > ‘(ir)relevant’. The modal adjective *macadgüi* ‘maybe’ (< Classical Mongolian *macad* ‘certain’) doesn’t contrast to a positive form and (in Khalkha dialect) only follows linking converbs in -ž (70).

- (68) žims bol **xereg=güi**.
 fruit TOP necessity=NEG
 ‘As for fruits, we don’t need any.’ (SC2: Khalkha0001)
- (69) gur¹al aw-ax **xereg=güi**.
 flour take-NPST.PTCP necessity=NEG
 ‘We don’t need to import [wheat] flour.’ (SC2: Khalkha0001)

- (70) *tunḡaa tat-saṅ bai-ž maḡadḡuu.*
 NAME draw-PRF.PTCP COP-CVB maybe
 ‘Tungaa might have smoked [this fag].’ (SC2: Khalkha0001)

The morpheme combination *-š=güi* forms deverbal adjectives which express that the occurrence of the event is unlikely or impossible, e.g. *mart-aḡd-aš=güi tör-söṅ ödor* ‘unforgettable birthday’ or *sal-š=güi naiz* ‘inseparable friends’. These adjectives are mostly used as attributes and only rarely as predicates. An irregular case is *bolz-oš=güi* ‘unarrangeable’ in (71) which indicates that some adverse action marked by a converb in *-ž* might conceivably happen. It is also common in predicates. A related positive pattern in *-uuš-tai* forms adjectives that denote that the action is worthwhile doing, e.g. *anxaar-uuš-tai züil* ‘an issue worth taking notice of’. While most of these words are lexicalized and do not come in polarity pairs, the patterns retain some limited productivity. The morph *-(uu)š-* always co-occurs with comitative/privative case.

- (71) *yaltaṅ amⁱ=aa xorl-ož bolz-oš=güi bol ...*
 prisoner life=RPOSS harm-CVB arrange-LIKELY=NEG if
 ‘If a prisoner is likely to commit suicide ...’ (IC)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

The position of a declarative negator within a predicate correlates with its scope. It is subsumed under the scope of all subsequent TAME markers and takes all preceding (necessarily non-finite) TAME markers into its scope. For instance, the negator in *id-ež bai-caa=güi* ‘have not yet been eating’ in (10) takes scope over the progressive, while the copula in *xel-ee=güi bai-n* ‘have not yet said’ in (12) defines a time span during which a certain action is not being performed. If a negator attaches to adjectives as in (24) or (25a), it only affects the adjectival phrase itself. In imperatives (§2.2), the negator precedes and takes scope over the full verbal predicate, sometimes along with some arguments other than the subject.

In Mongolic languages, it is often not possible or feasible to separately negate adjectives used as adverbials to verbal predications (Yu 1991: 156), since *=güi* is uncommon with adjectives (§2.3.1) and *biš* rarely forms adverbials. Instead, standard negation negates these adverbials and their predicates as a whole, as in (72)

which only denies that the speaker has GOOD knowledge. Since =*güi* entails reduction, *saiŋ* ‘good’ could not readily be replaced with bare *muu* ‘bad’. With the additive focus clitic =*č* (see §3.2), *muu*=*č* could imply that the speaker does not even know the matter badly, but just not at all.

- (72) en-iig bol bii neg saiŋ med-ex=**küü**.
 this-ACC TOP 1SG one good know-NPST.PTCP=NEG
 ‘This I don’t know particularly well.’ (SC1: Derik, Benzin)

To negate an adjunct through its predicate without necessarily reducing or denying the main action, the negator or “焦点調整形式” ‘focus adjustment form’ (Mukai 2001: 75–76) *biš* can be used (Yu 1991: 159–160). *Biš* indicates that something is not correct about the proposition, but does not specify what. For instance, (73) is ambiguous with regard to the negated constituent, while in (74) the context specifies that only the adverbial *xüüxed-tei ge-ed* ‘because I have a child’ is negated by *biš*.

- (73) Oyuun bayan ge-ed Dorž tüün-tei gerel-sen **biš**.
 NAME rich QUOT-PFV.CVB NAME that-COM marry-PRF.PTCP NEG
 ‘Dorj didn’t marry Oyuun saying>because *Oyuun is rich* (but he did something else/but he married her for another reason).’ (Yu 1991: 159–160)
- (74) Xüüxed-tei ge-ed yaw-ž čad-ax=*güi*
 child-COM QUOT-PFV.CVB go-CVB can-NPST.PTCP=NEG
 bai-gaa=m **biš** šüü.
 COP-PRS.PTCP=ASRT NEG DP
 ‘It is really not because I have a child that I cannot leave [my husband]. [I have (...) all things necessary to take my child with me.]’ (IC)

Biš most often attaches to predicates, but it is also used for the contrastive negation of constituents such as arguments (75), goal complements (76), and attributes. The denied and affirmed constituent must both be overt (Yu 1991: 123–124), except in some fossilized expressions such as *neg biš udaa* / *neg bus udaa* ‘on not just one occasion’ (cf. §3.3.1).

- (75) Monᠭol-d **biš** xarⁱ garⁱag-t tör-sön bol saixan
 Mongolia-DAT NEG foreign world-DAT be.born-PRF.PTCP if beautiful
 baixgüiyuu.
 DP
 ‘It is great if you were not born in Mongolia, but in the great wide world, you see.’ (IC)

- (76) Xudaldaq-g xož-ogd-ox ge-ž biš xož-ox
 trade-ACC defeat-PASS-NPST.PTCP QUOT-CVB NEG defeat-NPST.PTCP
 ge-ž xii-deg.
 QUOT-CVB do-HAB.PTCP
 ‘One does trade not in order to be defeated, but to defeat.’ (IC)

4.2 Negative polarity

A few semantically general adverbs are confined to negated contexts, including the intensifier *ogt* ‘(not) at all’ in (77), *tödiilön* ‘(not) particularly’ [lit. making it that much], and the concessives *yaawč* / *xerxewč* ‘(not) in any regard’ [lit. in spite of doing what]. The comparative-concessive adverbial *tegtlee* [lit. until doing like that] is restricted to negated and interrogative sentences, and *tödii* ‘(only) that much’ prefers, but does not strictly require negated contexts. Indefinite proforms (see §3.2) are mostly found in negative, interrogative and permissive contexts.

Some adverbs are more common in negative contexts due to their specific meanings. For instance, *xaraaxaŋ* ‘still’ only collocates with predicates that express that something has not yet become ready or not come to a certain point as in (77), which also includes positive sentences containing the word *ert* ‘early’ or its derivations. Similarly, *or tas* ‘completely’ collocates with predicates that denote becoming absent, whether this is achieved lexically or via negators.¹¹

- (77) Gexdee en=en xüŋ ogt ič-ex yos=güi
 but this=3POSS person entirely feel.ashamed-NPST.PTCP custom=NEG
 ge-seŋ üg xaraaxaŋ biš.
 QUOT-PRF.PTCP word still NEG
 ‘But that does not quite mean that man shouldn’t feel ashamed at all.’ (IC)

4.3 Marking of noun phrases in the scope of negation

Under negation, case marking is left intact, only that comitative case marking in *-tai* is replaced with privative marking in *=güi* if the constituent itself is negated (see §3.3). The use and choice of focus markers is affected by polarity, i.e. additive focus marking is used for ‘[not] even [one/once]’ (cf. (63)), but limitative focus marking in *=l* is used in the corresponding positive statement ‘only [one/once]’.

¹¹All forms discussed in this section were identified by Kim (2016: 109).

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The negative polarity adverb *ogt* ‘(not) at all’ as in (77) reinforces negation. Apart from this, several sentence-final particles are general means for reinforcing positive or negative statements.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Mongolian tends to embed preceding clauses into subsequent clauses and thus makes relatively limited use of coordination. Constructions based on *eswel* ‘or’ historically speaking use negation in the scope of conditionality to coordinate constituents (see Brosig 2015b: 89–90). Coordination also plays a role in alternative questions with (*ü*)*güi*=*yüü* (§2.2). In a similar vein, it is possible to coordinate two finitely used predicates at the end of a matrix clause. Most often both of these have the same polarity as in (78), but different forms as in (79) are possible, too. The latter might be seen as a predecessor to negated adverbial clauses (§2.4.2). Contrastive constituents can be coordinated by *biš* (§4.1), antonym compounds use =*güi* (§4.6.3).

- (78) Getel tern-ii aaw=an ir-ž (...), tüün-iig bol
 but that-GEN father=3POSS come=CVB that-ACC TOP
 ömöö-öö=güi bas eež-iig=en bas zagn-aa=güi.
 console-RES.PTCP=NEG also mother-ACC=3POSS also scold-RES.PTCP=NEG
 ‘But her father came (...) but he did not console her, nor did he scold the mother.’ (lit. and also didn’t scold ...) (SC2: Retelling_EO)

- (79) neg xözör gar-g-ax-guu, öng-öör=ön
 one trump exit-CAUS-NPST.PTCP-NEG color-INS=3POSS
 gar-ag-čax-Ø!
 exit-CAUS-COMPL-IMP
 ‘[One] doesn’t play a trump [here; rather] follow suit [lit. ‘by its color’]!’
 (SC2: Khalkha0017)

A specific case between coordination and subordination is the negative nominalizer *esex*. It can follow any nominal predication, but most commonly combines with nonpast participles in *-x*, as in (80). Structurally, this pattern is reminiscent of the formation of alternative questions in that the negator forms something reminiscent of a negated pro-clause, and the tendency to “coordinate” identical TAME forms (if *esex* is taken to historically end in a nonpast participle) supports this explanation. *Esex* as a nominal element can form argument clauses,

which would be marked by case suffixes as in (81) or, for subjects, by personal-possessive suffixes (for subjects) as in (80). Alternatively, *esex* can also be used attributively as in (82). It is prevalent in formal written texts and entirely absent from SC.

- (80) Bag=n delxii-ŋ awarg-ad orolc-ox
team=3POSS world-GEN champion-DAT participate-NPST.PTCP
esex=n ergelzee-tei.
or.not=3POSS doubt-COM
'It is doubtful whether the team will participate in the world
champion[ship].' (IC)
- (81) en doloo_xonog-t bagt-aa-ŋ D.Zor¹ogt said-iig
this week-DAT be.contained-CAUS-CVB NAME minister-ACC
ogcr-uul-ax esex-iig šiidverl-ex yos-toi.
resign-CAUS-NPST.PTCP or.not-ACC decide-NPST.PTCP custom-COM
'[We] should decide within this week whether or not [we] relieve
minister D. Zorigt of his duty.' (IC)
- (82) Erdes_bayalag erčem_xüčn-ii said D.Zor¹ogt-iig
minerals energy-GEN minister NAME-ACC
ogcr-uul-ax esex asuudl-iig UIX-iin
resign-CAUS-NPST.PTCP or.not problem-ACC Great.State.Assembly-GEN
negd-seŋ čuulgan-aar xel-elc-lee.
unite-PRF.PTCP assembly-INS discuss-RECP-IMM.FH.PST
'[They] discussed the question of whether or not to relieve the minister
for resources and energy, D. Zorigt, of his duty during the plenary
session of the Great State Assembly.' (IC)

The pattern (*ter=c*) *büü xel-Ø* ‘not to mention’ with the old imperative negator *büü* also fulfills a connective function, as in (83), though in structural terms it seems to be adverbial rather than coordinating.

- (83) Tatwar ge-xeer önöödör biznes erxlegč-d-ees exl-eed žiriinj
tax QUOT-CVB today business owner-PL-ABL begin-CVB normal
neg-eŋ irgeŋ Dorž guai xürtel töwögš-öö-ž,
one=ATTR citizen NAME mr/mrs until be.uncomfortable-CAUS-CVB
ter=č **büü xel-Ø** zarʼam=an daramt-and or-ž,
that=ADD.FOC NEG say-IMP some=3POSS pressure-DAT enter-CVB

stress-t bar¹-agd-san bai-dag.
 stress-DAT catch-PASS-PRF.PTCP COP-HAB.PTCP
 ‘If you speak about taxes, today [people] starting from the business
 owner up to normal citizen Dorj feel uncomfortable. **Not to mention that,**
 some **even** get into pressure and are caught by stress.’ (IC)

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

In many languages, subordinate clause predicates with certain semantic characteristics can be negated via a negation that occurs in the matrix clause (e.g. *I don’t think they sing for I think they don’t sing*). This phenomenon is called negative transport (see Horn 1989: 315). In Mongolian, predicates that entail such implicatures include *bod-* ‘think’ (84) and the somewhat formal *xüs-* ‘wish’ (85). Regardless of whether the matrix predicate or the embedded predicate is negated, the most accessible interpretation is that the speaker seeks to express that the predication in the embedded clause does not obtain.

- (84) a. Bi margaas̄ togol-ž̄ čad-an ge-ž̄
 1SG tomorrow play-CVB can-IMM.PRS QUOT-CVB
 bod-ox=güi bai-n.
 think-NPST.PTCP=NEG COP-IMM.PRS
 ‘[I] don’t think I can play tomorrow.’ (IC)
- b. infl¹ac¹-ad tiim=č̄ ix nölöl-öx=güi ge-ž̄
 inflation-DAT SO=ADD.FOC much influence-NPST.PTCP=NEG QUOT-CVB
 bod-ož̄ bai-n.
 think-CVB COP-IMM.PRS
 ‘[I] think that [this] (...) would not influence inflation that much.’ (IC)
- (85) a. Tiim boloxoor bi itgel ald-ax-iig xüs-ex=güi
 like.that because 1SG belief lose-NPST.PTCP-ACC wish-NPST.PTCP-NEG
 bai-gaa.
 COP-EST.PRS
 ‘Because it is like that, I don’t want to lose trust.’ (IC)
- b. Wirus eswel teknik-iin gemtl-ees bol-ž̄ čuxal
 virus or technic-GEN damage-ABL become-CVB important
 fail-uud=aa ald-ax=güi bai-x-iig xüs-deg.
 file-PL=RPOSS lose-NPST.PTCP-NEG COP-EST.PRS-ACC wish-HAB.PTCP
 ‘We want not to be losing important files because of viruses or

technical defects.’ (IC)

Structurally, the complement clause in (84) is in the scope of the quotative verb, while in (85) it is nominalized via a case-marked nonpast participle. It is exceedingly rare for negated participles to receive accusative case marking ($n_{IC:xüs-}=8$, i.e. the verb *xüs-* is immediately preceded by $-PTCP=güi=g$ on 8 occasions in the Internet Corpus). So if a verb of cognition requires accusative marking, the case suffix rather attaches to a copula that follows the negated participle ($n_{IC:xüs-}=147$). However, a copula automatically conveys aspect (e.g. progressive in (85b)). If this is to be avoided, the negation has to be placed in the matrix clause ($n_{IC:xüs-}=1917$), as in (85a). In contrast to *bod-* (OPINION) and *xüs-* (INTENTION), negated forms of the verb *san-agd-* miss/think-PASS- ‘seem (to the mind) as if’ (PERCEPTION) only rarely take (positive) participial complements ($n_{IC}=15$) or quoted complement clauses ($n_{IC}=12$). Instead, negation usually takes place within the complement of the positive matrix verb *san-agd-*, e.g. by introducing negated participles by means of the dummy noun *yum* ‘thing’ followed by the similative linker *šig* in a sequence $-PTCP=güi\ yum\ šig\ san-agd$ ($n_{IC}=201$). The option to negate either the main or subordinate clause doesn’t seem to be common for predicates of other semantic classes either. PROBABILITY is commonly expressed by complex predicates or adverbials rather than by main clause predicates. For INTENTION and JUDGMENT/WEAK OBLIGATION, speakers heavily rely on MODAL ADJECTIVES, see (67–70) above. These are inherently marked for polarity by privative or comitative (possessive) case forms, while subordinate forms take bare nonpast participles. Consequently, they are negated in the matrix clause as in (86) ($n_{IC}=575$), while a structure similar to (85b) is strongly dispreferred ($n_{IC}=1$).

- (86) Bi öwöl ger-ees=ee car-ax dur=güi=ee.
 1SG winter home-ABL=RPOSS go.out-NPST.PTCP desire-NEG=EMPH
 ‘I won’t like leaving my place during winter.’ (IC)

If this preliminary overall picture is correct, “negative transport” in Khalkha Mongolian appears to be a somewhat restricted phenomenon.

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

While regular negation denotes that a proposition does not hold true, metalinguistic negation is used to object to an utterance on any grounds conceivable, including its apparent implicatures, its register, morphology or phonetics (Horn 1989: 363). This usually requires the speaker to explicitly invoke an alternative

contrastive interpretation, something that the ascriptive negator *biš* (< ‘other’) does by necessity (see §2.3.1). Consequently, it is *biš* that is used for the metalinguistic readjustment of perspective as in (87).

- (87) 2009 oŋ-ii soŋguul¹-d C.Elbegdorž ge-deg ulstörč
 2009 year-GEN election-DAT NAME QUOT-HAB.PTCP politician
 yal-saŋ biš, N.Enxbayar ge-deg ulstörč
 win-PRF.PTCP NEG NAME QUOT-HAB.PTCP politician
 yal-agd-saŋ yum.
 win-PASS-PRF.PTCP ASRT
 ‘In the election of 2009, it was not the politician Ts. Elbegdorj who won,
 [but rather] the politician N. Enkhbayar who was defeated.’ (IC)

4.6.3 Non-negative uses of negatives

A negated nonpast participle plus optional conditional particle may be followed by a negated nonpast participle of *bol-* ‘may’ as in (88) to indicate necessity. Both negated nonpast participle in *-x=güi* and negative converbs in *-lgüi* can be followed by *yaa-* ‘do what’ as in (89) to indicate a reasonable course of action. Straightforward double negation, yielding a positive statement, is accomplished by *=güi biš*, as in (90). Several rare forms of double negation that are even absent from IC are discussed by Pjurbeev (2015).

- (88) bitmiŋ uu-x-kuu bol bol-kuu.
 vitamin drink-NPST.PTCP if may-NPST.PTCP.NEG
 ‘I (really) need to take vitamins.’ (SC2: Z05-1) (lit. ‘It is not possible if [SUBJECT] doesn’t drink vitamins.’)
- (89) odoo xon-uul-x=güü
 now stay.overnight-CAUS-NPST.PTCP=NEG
 yaa-x=aw=dee.
 do.what-NPST.PTCP=NEG=Q.IFR
 ‘Now what else but to let him stay overnight [now that he’s arrived].’
 (SC1: TH, Ganbaatar)
- (90) A: ‘It seems that this light hasn’t been put in yet.’
 B: güi=ee, čiiđen-gii=n xii-gee=güi biš=ee, en-čen
 no=EMPH light.bulb-ACC=3POSS do-RES.PTCP=NEG NEG=EMPH this-STC

šat-c=iin.

burn-EST.PST=ASRT

‘No, it’s not that the light bulb hasn’t been put in, it has burnt out.’
(IC)

If attached to a pair of antonyms, =*güi* cancels out the relevance of this distinction for the situation at hand, and both sets are conjoined, as in (91). Most attested antonym collocations are highly conventionalized.

- (91) ödör šön=**güü** gedes güi-lg-eed bai-n.
day night=NEG stomach run-CAUS-PFV.CVB COP-IMM.PRS
‘I’m having diarrhea (without regard for) day and night.’ (SC2: Z05-2)

As discussed in §2.2, negated questions commonly combine a request for information with the speaker’s guess at a positive state. The form *bai-x=güi=yüü*, consisting of the existential/copula verb *bai-* as a negated nonpast participle with question clitic, conveys such a meaning in a locative-possessive construction, as in (92). However, if it follows predicative nominals as in (75) and (93), it functions as a specialized discourse particle. It signals to the addressee that the speaker is quite convinced of the proposition and, given the explanation just presented, the addressee should also accept it. Alternatively, the speaker might use it to remind the addressee of an important factor which the addressee might not have considered earlier. This expression also implies that this factor would enable the addressee to automatically understand the overall situation.

In a sincere or even rhetorical negated verbal question, =*güi=yüü* would attach directly to the participle. The semantically similar discourse particle *šüü*, conveying the speaker’s superior authority, might have a similar origin, going back to *biš=üü*.

- (92) čam-d maas **bai-x-kuu=yuu?**
2SG.DAT pair.of.cards be-NPST.PTCP=NEG=Q.PLR
‘Don’t you have any pair of cards?’ (SC2: Khalkha0017)
- (93) ter yag iŋg-ež čimx-deg **baixkuuyuu.**
that precisely do.like.this-CVB pinch-HAB.PTCP MP
‘She pinches the dumplings shut in precisely this [efficient and helpful] way, you see.’ (SC2: Z03-1)

The suffix *-lgüi* (see §2.4.2) forms yet another complex discourse particle, *bai-lgüi=dee*, as in (94). It conveys that the occurrence of the event (at a time specified

by a preceding participial suffix, mostly in *-x*) is almost automatic and nothing that the addressee should worry about. Since specialized converbs in *-lgüi* can normally not occur in sentence-final position, the construction might have arisen from ellipsis, but native speakers are unable to supply any elided component.

- (94) neg cagaan sar-aas ömön uulz-acgaa-x bai-lguu dee.
 one white month-ABL before meet-PL-NPST.PTCP AUX-NEG.CVB DP
 ‘Before New Year, we shall certainly meet.’ (SC2: Z08-1)

As mentioned for (53) in §2.3.1, the function of *biš* can sometimes be understood in terms of its original meaning ‘other’, and such an interpretation is forced for (95). It thus does not truly instantiate a non-negative usage of a negative, but rather the not-yet negative use of a young negator that has not acquired a negation function in all contexts.

- (95) öör xüüxd-üüd-ees=l asuu-x-aas biš
 other child-PL-ABL=LIM.FOC ask-NPST.PTCP-ABL other
 yaa-x=aw?
 do.what-NPST.PTCP-Q.IFR
 ‘What should you do, except for asking other children?’ (IC)

Finally, the construct in (96) appears to be biclausal and ultimately positive. The nominal clause preceding *biš* seems to express an action that the speaker regrets. The second clause conveys the unexpected and undesired consequence of that action. The habitual *-dag* conveys a surprised pseudo-generalization (Brosig 2015a: esp. 93–96), while *bai-n* signals immediate perception. Alternatively, its predicate could contain the completive *-čix-* indicating lack of speaker control. (96a) is a regular translation and (96b) a hypothetical attempt to translate *biš* as a negator, with elliptical elements that currently cannot be motivated independently.

- (96) Yar'-sarj biš gai bol-dog bai-n.
 speak-PRF.PTCP NEG misfortune become-HAB.PTCP COP-IMM.PRS
 a. ‘I spoke [about it], and now misfortune has come out of it.’
 b. ‘[If] it had not been for [me] speaking, [everything would have been good. But now,] I see, misfortune evolves.’ (D. Guntsetseg, p.c., 2019-04-24)

While *biš* (< ‘other’) might still express its original meaning in connective contexts like (95–96), neither *biš* nor *bus* can express this meaning in regular

attributive uses. In this regard, they contrast with the fossilized plural adjective form *bus.ad* ‘the other(s)’ which can be used attributively or as a nominalized form but cannot function as a negator.

4.6.4 Diachronic notes and observations

The Middle Mongol (13th-14th century) system was based on several preverbal negators: *ese* for past forms, *ülü* for non-pasts, and *büü* for imperatives. There is defeasible evidence that these were also used for ascriptive negation. *Busi* ‘other’ started to take over ascriptive negation in Late Middle Mongol, while *bü-tügei* ‘desist!’ started its development into an imperative negator even later. The existential negator was *ügei* (back then an adjective-like word with varying forms), which also formed privative adverbials. Non-possession was based on a privative rather than a locative scheme (see Brosig 2015b and references therein).

In the “Negative Existential Cycle” (Croft 1991), synchronically speaking, Middle Mongolian occupies stage B~C (an existential negator making first inroads into verbal negation, still closer to stage B). Its daughter Khalkha Mongolian is harder to locate. On the one hand, it occupies a stage in which the cliticized (or suffixed) form =*güi* of a former negative existential has taken over standard negation including the marking of the positive existential, displacing the particle *ügüi* from nearly all of its former functions (B~C, almost completely attaining C). On the other hand, the pragmatically specific form *alac* ‘absent’ is making first inroads into the domain of possessive (Brosig 2015b: 128-129) and, secondarily and somewhat arguably, existential negation (Veselinova 2013: 137), suggesting stage C~A at a point still very close to C. Between the still poetically or dialectally usable constructions involving existential *ügüi*, the complete reign of =*güi* and the advent of *alac*, one might situate Khalkha at a stage B~C~A, confirming the high stability of transitional stages (Veselinova & Hamari 2022: 13).

5 Summary

We observe several distinct negation strategies in Khalkha Mongolian, summarized in Table 1. The most frequent and multi-functional negator is the clitic =*güi*. Diachronically, it started out as an adjective indicating absence (without reference to a specific location) or possessive negation in predicates, attributes and adverbials. In the course of time, it has taken over standard negation and is currently only marginally used for negation of possession. As a standard negator, =*güi* attaches to participles, thus neutralizing the evidential opposition between different past tense forms. In the new locative-possessive-existential negation

pattern, *=güi* normally attaches to a participial form of the existential verb *bai*-. Its longer and older form *ügüi*, which would be used on its own, not following the positive existential verb, is only marginally attested. Both *=güi* and *ügüi* are used in negative answers and the second clauses of alternative questions. In the second clauses of embedded alternative propositions, the fossilized negator *esex* can be used. The diachronically new negator *alac* ‘absent’ is used as a pragmatically conditioned alternative to *bai*-PTCP=*güi* and is mostly found in locative-possessive predications. The converbal suffix *-lgüi* (based on deverbal noun-forming *-l*) marks negative adverbial clauses.

The ascriptive negator *biš* has become the only negator for identity and the most common negator for property predications. It originates from the Middle Mongol word *busi* ‘other’ and, probably due to that, it is the only device for metalinguistic negation. It is also used for the negation of participles and as a short standalone negative answer. *Biš* is mostly used in predicates, while attributive identity negation is primarily encoded by the negator *bus* which also derives from *busi*. In addition to their uses as clausal negators, both *(ü)güi* and *biš* may function as nominal bases for derivation.

For imperatives, the preverbal usage of negators has been retained from Middle Mongol, but the innovative form *bitgii* has reduced the original imperative negator *büü* to a rare stylistic variant. If responding to a proposal that the interlocutor would like to act in a particular way, *bitgii* on its own can be used for prohibition. The old pre-verbal standard negators *ül* (imperfective) and *es* (perfective) have been confined to lexical negation and here combine with particular verb stem classes regardless of tense-aspect marking.

Acknowledgements

This paper was written during the project “Evidentiality, authority and information status - Investigating constructional networks and grammaticalization paths of quotative indices in Central Mongolic” funded by Academia Sinica (PI: Suying Hsiao). It was revised while working on the project ‘Evidentiality in time and space’ (PI: Fernando Zúñiga, Co-I: Marius Zemp) at the University of Bern and while working as assistant professor at Nazarbayev University. I am grateful to Dolgor Guntsetseg, Vlada Baranova, Hsiao Suying and two anonymous reviewers for their comments on earlier versions of this paper and to T. Erdene-Ochir for our discussion about §2.3.2 and §3.1.

Table 1: Khalkha Mongolian negators

Negation marker	Functions	Section
V-PTCP= <i>güi</i> , N= <i>güi</i>	negates finite predications negates attributive predications negates adverbial predications negates property predications negates alternative questions negative replies privative case derivational negation	§2.1–§2.2, §4.1 §2.4.1 §2.4.2, §3.3.2 §2.3.1 §2.2 §3.1 §3.3.2 §3.3.1–§3.3.2
(N) <i>bai</i> -PTCP= <i>güi</i> , (N) <i>ügüi</i>	negates locative-possessive-existential predications negates comitative-possessive predications alternative questions negative replies	§2.3.2 §2.3.2 §2.2 §3.1
(N) <i>ügüi</i>	basis for negative derivation	§3.3.1
- <i>lgüi</i>	negates adverbial clauses	§2.4.2
(N) <i>alac</i>	negates locative-possessive-existential predications negates comitative-possessive predications	§2.3.2 §2.3.2
<i>esex</i>	alternative propositions	§4.5
N <i>biš</i>	negates identity / property in finite predicates metalinguistic negation negative replies basis for negative derivation connective 'other'	§2.2–§2.3.1, §4.1, §4.6.2 §4.6.2 §3.1 §3.3.1 §4.6.3
N <i>bus</i>	negates identity / property in attributives	§3.3.1
<i>bitgii</i> V-2IMP, <i>büü</i> V-2IMP <i>bitgii</i>	express prohibition expresses negative replies	§2.2 §3.1
<i>ül</i> V-, <i>es</i> V- <i>es</i> V- <i>wal</i>	derivational negation conditional negation	§3.3.1 §3.3.1

Abbreviations

(.)	short pause	INS	instrumental
1	first person	INTS	intensifier
2	second person	INTR	intransitive
3	third person	INJ	interjection
ABL	ablative	IPFV	imperfective
ACC	accusative	LIM	limitative (focus)
ADD	additive (focus)	LOC	locative
ALL	allative	MNR	manner (converb)
ASRT	assertive (particle)	MP	modal particle
ATTR	attributive	NAME	proper name
AUX	auxiliary	NEG	negation
CAUS	causative	NMLZ	nominalizer
COLL	collective	NPST	nonpast
COM	comitative	PASS	passive
COMPL	completive	PFV	perfective
COND	conditional	PL	plural
COP	copula	PLR	polar (question)
CVB	converb	POSS	possessive
DAT	dative	POT	potential
DIM	diminutive	PRF	perfect
DP	discourse particle	PREP	preparatory
DVN	de-verbal noun	PRIV	privative
EMPH	emphatic	PROG	progressive
EST	established (present, past)	PROX	proximal
EX	existential	PRS	present
F	feminine	PROSP	prospective
FH	firsthand (evidentiality)	PST	past
FOC	focus	PTCP	participle
FUT	future	Q	question marker
GEN	genitive	QUOT	quotative verb
HAB	habitual	RECP	reciprocal
HON	honorific	RES	resultative
HORT	hortative	RPOSS	reflexive possessive
IC	Internet Corpus	SC	Spoken Corpus
IFR	information (question)	SG	singular
IMFR	inferential	STC	stance marker
IMM	immediate (present, past)	TAG	tag (question)
IMP	imperative	TOP	topic
IMPL	implore		

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Negation in Amri Karbi

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This paper provides a description of the negation system in Amri Karbi. The description is based mainly on data collected by the author during fieldwork. The outline of the description follows the structure of the “Questionnaire for describing the negation system of a language” (Miestamo 2025). The paper starts with a short introduction, then it proceeds with description of standard negation in Amri Karbi that is marked with the negative suffix -Ce. Following this is a discussion of non-clausal negation and the final section of the paper provides description of other aspects of negation, including negative polarity and negation in complex clauses among other topics.

Keywords: Amri Karbi, negation, tibeto-burman, duplifix.

1 Introduction

Amri Karbi (ISO: [ajz](#), Glottocode: [amri1238](#)) is a Tibeto-Burman language spoken in the Kamrup district of Assam and the Ri-Bhoi district of Meghalaya of North East India. Amri Karbis, along with a closely related group Karbis, are an indigenous tribe of North East India. They are mentioned as the Mikir in the Constitution Order of the Government of India. Amri Karbis and Karbis are closely related linguistically and ethnically. Karbis predominantly live in Karbi Anglong district of Assam.

A full description of the Amri Karbi grammar is provided in [Philippova \(2021\)](#). The latest description of the closest related language Karbi can be found in [Konnerth \(2014\)](#).

The Amri Karbi live in scattered villages located either in the plains or the hills; they live among an Assamese speaking population and other tribes that speak either related languages like Tiwa or genealogically unrelated languages like Khasi (Austro-Asiatic). The *Ethnologue* ([Eberhard et al. 2019](#)) mentions 125 000 native speakers of Amri Karbi. The Census of India from 2011 states that there

are 511 732 Karbi/Mikir native speakers in Assam and 14 380 Karbi/Mikir speakers in Meghalaya, a total of 528 503 Karbi/Mikir speakers in all India.¹ The number of speakers for Assam includes both Amri Karbi speakers and Karbi speakers of Karbi Anglong. Therefore, the exact number of Amri Karbi speakers is uncertain.

Amri Karbi is a verb final language and TAM distinctions are expressed through verb morphology. Amri Karbi is a synthetic language, with some degree of variation in the form of morphemes and fusion at morpheme boundaries.

Table 1 gives a summary of verbal affixes and their assigned slots.

Table 1: Template of Amri Karbi verb structure

1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9
<i>nang</i> =	NMLZ <i>ki-</i>	RR <i>chi-</i>	ROOT	PRED.DERIV	RED	NEG <i>-Ce</i>	R <i>-lò</i>	TAG <i>=dik</i>
1 <i>ne</i> =	PST <i>ki-</i>	CAUS <i>pa-</i>		(RED)		IMP <i>-not</i>	HAB <i>-man</i>	ASSUM <i>=hole/=hele</i>
2 <i>nang</i> =				(NEG)		IMP.POL <i>-tha</i>	POT <i>-bò</i>	CONF.Q <i>=bô</i>
1PL.INCL <i>i</i> =						PROH <i>-nek</i>	FUT <i>-ye</i>	or <i>=ba</i>
1pl.EXCL <i>hali</i> =						HORT <i>-nang</i>	IRR1 <i>-bang</i>	REP <i>=tàng/=tànghò</i>
							NFNL.R <i>-si</i>	Q <i>=ma</i>
							NFNL.IRR <i>-ne</i>	Q2 <i>=te</i>
							yet <i>-lang</i>	ADD <i>=ta</i>
							DEF <i>-po</i>	UNCERT <i>=ne</i>
								may.be <i>=mine</i>
								REPL <i>=to</i>
								INTERACT <i>=hò</i>
								EMPH <i>=he</i>
								SUPP <i>=tema</i>
								DECL <i>=ro</i>
								INDF <i>=bak</i>

Amri Karbi is a tonal language, with three tones, low, medium and high, which exhibit low functional load. In the text examples tone is marked only on those items where the tone category was identified. Since there is a high variability and fluctuation of tone, only underlying tone is marked in the text examples. Tone in the text examples is marked with the diacritics, e.g. *á* ‘High’, *à* ‘Low’, *ā* ‘Mid’.

Most of the linguistic examples given in this paper come from natural data collected by the author during fieldtrips (in the period 2013–2017) as a part of the Amri Karbi grammatical description project (see Philippova 2021). There are two hours and thirty-four minutes of transcribed natural data; there are also several hours of recorded audio and video data that were not transcribed but were used for this paper to supplement the transcribed data. The transcribed data consists of data recorded from thirty speakers. The paper contains some elicited examples that were recorded during the fieldtrips or remotely from language consultants. When a linguistic example in this paper was elicited, it is indicated after the example. There are some examples that come from the New Testament that was translated in 2013; these examples are indicated as (NT).

¹<http://censusindia.gov.in/>

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation (Payne 1985, Miestamo 2005) in Amri Karbi is expressed by the negative marker on a verb which is an onset reduplication suffix or a duplifix -Ce. A duplifix is a mixture of an affix and reduplication where an element attached to the base consists of both copied segments and fixed segments (Haspelmath 2002: 24). In Amri Karbi, the copied segment is the onset of the last syllable of the verb stem. The fixed segment is the vowel which is always *e*. For example, the verb *cho* ‘eat’ has an onset *ch*, so the negative suffix for *cho* is *che* and the negative form of the verb is *choche* ‘not eat’. If the last syllable of the verb stem does not have an onset, then the negative suffix starts with the glottal stop; for example, *ùn* ‘be able’ does not have an onset consonant, so the negative suffix for *ùn* is *e* and the negative form of the verb is produced as *ùn’e* ‘not able’.² In the text examples, the negative suffix is written as -Ce on the morpheme line, where C stands for the onset consonant and *e* is the fixed vowel of the negative suffix.

The negative suffix attaches to a verb stem (that may consist of a verb and a predicate derivation suffix) (1), thus appearing between the stem and TAM suffix.

- (1) a. Ne dame.
 ne dam-ye
 1 go-FUT
 ‘I will go.’
 b. Ne damdeye.
 ne dam-Ce-ye
 1 go-NEG-FUT
 ‘I will not go.’ (elicited)

Amri Karbi standard negation is different from the affirmative counterpart in regard to TAM marking, where the basic negated verb stem serves as a general negative form. As is shown in this section, there is a paradigmatic asymmetry (the term adapted from the typology suggested by Miestamo (2005) between Amri Karbi’s affirmative and negative structures with some TAM categories. This asymmetry is exhibited by the tense-aspect distinction in the negative being neutralized. For example, in the habitual there is a constructional asymmetry as the

²The negative suffixes starting with the glottal stop are written with the apostrophe, i.e. *un’e* ‘not able’.

habitual *-man* disappears in the negative (2); in other words, there is a cooccurrence restriction of the negative *-Ce* and the habitual *-man*. There is also a variation in the negative of the future *-ye* (3), with either keeping the future *-ye* in the negative or not. As a result, negative forms of the habitual *-man* and the future *-ye* sometimes are identical, and the formal distinction between these forms is neutralized in the negative, their senses may be inferred though the context.

- (2) a. Ne an choman.
ne an cho-man
1 rice eat-HAB
'I eat rice.'
- b. Ne an choche.
ne an cho-Ce
1 rice eat-NEG
'I do not eat rice.' (elicited)
- (3) a. Ne an choye.
ne an cho-ye
1 rice eat-FUT
'I will eat rice.'
- b. Ne an chocheye.
ne an cho-Ce-ye
1 rice eat-NEG-FUT
'I will not eat rice.'
- c. Ne an choche.
ne an cho-Ce
1 rice eat-NEG
'I will not eat rice.' (elicited)

In the database, the negative and the future *-ye* occurs primarily along with the conditional clauses (4). The general negative form of the verb stem and the negative duplifix is found to have future sense (5).

- (4) Aro labang hakpo kiphok phoknge putang putene nang eku hlonghleye.
 aro labang hak-po ki-phok phok-ye {putang putene} nang
 and DEM bucket-DEF NMLZ-open open-FUT {then} 2
 eku **hlong-Ce-ye**
 nothing get-NEG-FUT
 ‘And this bucket, if you open then you will not get anything.’ (natural data)
- (5) Tene kaiyokta thanek neta thanthe.
 tene kai=yok=ta than-ek ne-ta **than-Ce**
 then who=NSUBJ=ADD say-PROH 1=ADD say-NEG
 ‘So do not tell anyone and I will not tell (anyone).’ (natural data)

There is a different form of paradigmatic asymmetry between negative and affirmative in the case of the potential *-bo*. The potential *-bo* marks events that are non-asserted or that the speaker considers not to be the case. There is a cooccurrence restriction between the potential *-bo* and the negative marker *-Ce*. The elicited negative form of the potential *-bo* appears as the realis *-lo* or as a basic negative form with the stem and the negative marker (6), as is the case with the negative habitual and future that was shown above. However, the realis *-lo* with the negative suffix yields an emphatic meaning of ‘no more’ or ‘never’, which suggests that it is not an exact negative counterpart of the potential *-bo* which does not have this type of emphatic meaning.³

- (6) a. Ne an chobo.
 ne an cho-bo
 1 rice eat-POT
 ‘I am going to/will eat rice.’
- b. Ne an chochelo.
 ne an cho-Ce-lo
 1 rice eat-NEG-R
 ‘I will not eat rice (any more).’
- c. Ne an choche.

³Note that the construction verb-NEG-*lo* does not need to have the word ‘never’ to produce this meaning, which is different than the construction verb-NEG-NEGEX that is discussed in §3.2, where the adverb *jatsi* ‘never’ is required.

ne an cho-Ce
 1 rice eat-NEG
 'I will not eat rice.' (elicited)

Since the realis *-lo* produces the future meaning in the negative, one would expect the negative realis to have a different form. The suffix *-lo* has functions that fluctuate between the categories of the realis mood and perfect and perfective. As a mood marker, it has to do with the actuality of a state and in this category, it usually appears with a copular verb or an adjectival verb. As an aspect, it marks action verbs and indicates completed events that involve change (perfect), or it marks actions that are viewed as a single whole (perfective). The negative counterpart of the realis *-lo* has three forms. One is when the negated verb stem is marked with the realis *-lo*. In this case the meaning of the verb has an aspectual meaning of 'no more, never', which is similar to the future meaning of *-lo* 'no more, never' discussed above, but it does not have future meaning (7). Another form consists of the negated verb stem marked with the reduced form of the negative existential *ingyong* i.e. *-yong* (8). The negated verb stem is then marked with *-yong* and may be further marked with the realis *-lo*, but the semantics in this case requires a speaker to provide a reason for the event that did not happen (8). See also Table 2, that illustrates the different negative counterpart constructions of affirmative *-lo*.

(7) Taramta angpasiselo.
 taram=ta nang=pasi-Ce-lo
 call=ADD CIS=respond-NEG-R
 'Even though (he) called (him), (he) never responded.' (natural data)

(8) a. Ne an cholo.
 ne an cho-lo
 1 rice eat-R
 'I have eaten rice.'

b. Ne an chocheyong/chocheyongo.
 ne an cho-Ce-yong/cho-Ce-yong-lo
 1 rice eat-NEG-NEGEX/eat-NEG-NEGEX-R
 'I have not eaten.' / 'I have not eaten (because I was sick).' (elicited)

The irrealis *-bang* marks events that have not happened and are going to happen. There is a nature of intention, desire and necessity in actions marked with *-bang*. The irrealis *-bang* may occur both in the affirmative and negative, but the

Table 2: The negative counterpart constructions of affirmative *-lo*

affirmative	negative
<i>dam-lo</i>	<i>dam-de-yong</i> <i>dam-de-yong-o</i> <i>dam-de-lo</i> 'future sense'

senses of *-bang* are not symmetric in the affirmative and negative. In the negative, the intentionality of *-bang* is not negated, the action that it marks is negated and an inference of the expectation of the action is produced (9). In addition, similar to other TAM discussed above (habitual, future and potential), the general negative form with the verb root and the negative suffix may be used and the meaning of *-bang* may be inferred through the context.

- (9) a. Ne hat dambang.
 ne hat dam-bang
 1 market go-IRR1
 'I am going to the market now.'⁴
- b. Ne hat damdebang.
 ne hat dam-Ce-bang
 1 market go-NEG-IRR1
 'I am not going to the market now/yet (but I will after sometime).'
- c. Ne hat damde.
 ne hat dam-Ce
 1 market go-NEG
 'I am not going to the market.' (elicited)

The elicited negated past tense forms appear symmetrical, where the negative suffix *-Ce* is added to the affirmative past tense e.g. (10). However, in the available natural data, the past tense *ki-* never occurs in the negative. Negatives with past time references in the data have the form involving reduced negative existential copula *-yong/-yong-o*. This is the same negative construction that is used for the negative realis, e.g. (11).

⁴ *ne hat dambang* 'I am going to the market now' can mean that a person intends to go to the market at the time of speaking or that a person is on the way to the market.

- (10) a. Kiwang.
 ki-wang
 PST-come
 ‘(I) came.’
 b. Kiwangwe.
 ki-wang-Ce
 PST-come-NEG
 ‘(I) did not come.’ (elicited)
- (11) Chiklo jonni dordelengke anang jangchilangdundeyongo mengsurungpo
 ahem ayok.
 chiklo jon-ni dor-Ce-leng=ke anang
 month CLF:month-two complete-NEG-reach=TOP 3
 nang=chi-lang-dun-Ce-yong-lo mengsurung-po a-hem
 CIS=RR-look-follow-NEG-NEGEX.COP-R fox-DEF POSS-house
 a-yok
 POSS-DIR
 ‘He (the crocodile) did not come to the fox’s house for two months.’
 (natural data)

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

2.2.1 Prohibitive

Second person imperatives or commands are expressed by a bare stem or by one of the imperative suffixes *-not* or *-tha*. The imperative *-tha* is used for plural addressees or in a formal setting, e.g. talking to one’s in-laws. The imperative *-not* is used for plural addressees or also in a formal setting, e.g. talking to strangers, but it is less formal than the imperative *-tha*. The bare stem form is used in informal settings, e.g. talking to friends, siblings, etc. The negative form of an imperative has a dedicated construction, which is the prohibitive suffix *-yek*. The prohibitive suffix *-yek* is used for all three types of imperatives; as a result, the negative of imperative does not distinguish between formal and informal forms, e.g. (12), thus showing paradigmatic asymmetry.

- (12) a. Cho! / Chonot! / Chotha!
 cho / cho-not / cho-tha
 eat / eat-IMP / eat-IMP.POL
 ‘Eat! / Eat! / Eat, please!’

- b. Choyek!
 cho-yek
 eat-PROH
 ‘Do not eat!’ (elicited)

The Amri Karbi prohibitive *-yek* does not occur with the imperative suffixes, which is different from Karbi (see Konnerth 2014:536) where the Karbi prohibitive suffix *-rī* occurs with the imperative suffixes.

2.2.2 Modals

Some negative non-declarative clause types are expressed with the modal predicate derivational suffixes *-lag(e)* ‘want, should’ and *-un* ‘be able’. In negation of the modal *-lag(e)* there is an asymmetry, as the negative suffix does not attach to *-lag(e)*, but to a different modal suffix *-nang* e.g. (13) (note that in the case of the predicate derivational suffix *-nang* the scope of negation is on the entire predicate). The suffix *-nang* is an older modal that was used both in the affirmative and negative, but nowadays, Amri Karbi speakers prefer to use the Asamese borrowed modal *-lag(e)* in the affirmative. However, the old form *nang* is still used in the negative. Cross-linguistically there is a phenomenon where old elements are sometimes preserved in the negative and Amri Karbi *-lag(e)*, and *nang* are good examples of it. Amri Karbis remember that they previously used modal *nang* in both the affirmative and the negative and it was used in the New Testament translation in the affirmative. This form is still used in the closely related language Karbi (Konnerth 2014: 356), where the modal *-lag(e)* has not been adopted.

- (13) a. Chobellage.
 chobel-lage
 deceive-need
 ‘You should deceive.’
 b. Chobelnangne.
 chobel-nang-Ce
 deceive-need-NEG
 ‘You should not deceive.’ (elicited)

Non-declarative clauses constructed with the modal *-un* are negated with the negative verbal suffix *-Ce* (14).

- (14) Nanghem kihlenghlelengke nang labang hakpo phoun'e.
 nang-hēm ki-hlēng-Ce=**lēngke** nang la=baŋ hak-po
 2-house NMLZ-reach-NEG=until 2 DEM=GNR bucket-DEF
 pho-ùn-Ce
 open-be.able-NEG
 'Before you reach home, you must not open the bucket.' (PM Bilangthe)

2.2.3 Negative questions

Polar questions are constructed with the question particle =*ma* that marks the predicate. In negative polar questions, the verb has the negative suffix -*Ce* and the question particle is the same =*ma* as in the standard negation questions, e.g. (15). However, in negative questions that involve the negative existential *ingyong* the question particle is =*te* instead of =*ma*, e.g. (16). The question particle =*te* is also a dedicated question particle for rhetorical questions and reprimands.

- (15) a. Mohan hat kidamma?
 Mohan hat ki-dam=*ma*
 Mohan market PST-go=Q
 'Did Mohan go to market?'
 b. Mohan hat damdema?
 Mohan hat dam-Ce=*ma*
 Mohan market go-NEG=Q
 'Didn't Mohan go to market?' (elicited)
- (16) a. Mohanpo hem doma?
 Mohan-po hem do=*ma*
 Mohan-M home COP=Q
 'Is Mohan at home?'
 b. Mohan-po hem ingyongte?
 Mohan-po hem ingyong=*te*
 Mohan-M home NEGEX=Q
 'Isn't Mohan at home?' (elicited)

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Stative predications are classified according to Payne (1997: 111) with following types of stative predication clauses: equation, class inclusion, attribution, locative predication, existential predication and possessive predication.

2.3.1 Equative and class inclusion clauses

In equative and class inclusion clauses, nouns function as predicates without any other elements in the present tense. The subject is topicalized and the noun predicate usually carries the definite marker *-po/-pe*. Nominal predicate clauses require a combination of a noun and the copula *do* when the nominal clause is in the past and the copula is marked with the past tense *ki-*. In the future tense, the equative and class inclusion clauses generally use the verb *chiplang* ‘become’ instead of the copula *do*. The negative equative is *kalek*, which is placed at the end of the negative equative and class inclusion clauses. The negative *kalek* does not take TAM markers, but it can be marked with the second syllable of the existential *ingyong*, i.e. *kalekyong*. The negative *kalek* is used in negative present clauses, even though there is no affirmative copula in equative and class inclusion clauses of present tense, e.g. (17–22). The present and past tense negative equative and class inclusion clauses are identical in form and the past tense is inferred though the context e.g. (17–22). The fact that the past tense distinction is eliminated in the negative, makes the pattern to be asymmetric in the past tense. The future negative equative and class inclusion clauses are marked on the verb *chiplang* with the negative duplifix *-Ce* e.g. (17–22).

- (17) a. Anangke neaipe.
 anang=ke ne-ai-pe
 3=TOP 1-mother-F
 ‘She is my mother.’
 b. Anangke neaipe kalek.
 anang=ke ne-ai-pe kalek
 3=TOP 1-mother-F NEG.EQ
 ‘She is not/was not/will not be my mother.’ (elicited)
- (18) a. Anangke neaipe kido.
 anang=ke ne=ai-pe ki-do
 3=TOP 1=mother-F PST-COP
 ‘She was my mother.’
 b. Anangke neaipe kalek.
 anang=ke ne-ai-pe kalek
 3=TOP 1-mother-F NEG.EQ
 ‘She is not/was not/will not be my mother.’ (elicited)

- (19) a. Anangke necipe chiplangye.
anang=ke ne=ai-pe chiplang-ye
3=TOP 1=mother-F become-FUT
'She will become my mother.'
- b. Anangke necipe chiplangpleye.
anang=ke ne=ai-pe chiplang-ple-ye
3=TOP 1=mother-F become-NEG-FUT
'She will not become my mother.' (elicited)
- (20) a. Mohanpoke sikaripo.
Mohan-po=ke sikari-po
Mohan-DEF=TOP hunter-DEF
'Mohan is a hunter.'
- b. Mohanpoke sikaripo kalek.
Mohan-po=ke sikari-po kalek
Mohan-DEF=TOP hunter-DEF NEG.EQ
'Mohan is not a hunter.' (elicited)
- (21) a. Mohanpoke sikaripo kido.
Mohan-po=ke sikari-po ki-do
Mohan-DEF=TOP hunter-DEF PST-COP
'Mohan was a hunter.'
- b. Mohanpoke sikaripo kalek.
Mohan-po=ke sikari-po kalek
Mohan-DEF=TOP hunter-DEF NEG.EQ
'Mohan was not a hunter.' (elicited)
- (22) a. Mohanpoke sikaripo chiplangye.
Mohan-po=ke sikari-po chiplang-ye
Mohan-DEF=TOP hunter-DEF become-FUT
'Mohan will become a hunter.'
- b. Mohanpoke sikaripo chiplangpleye.
Mohan-po=ke sikari-po chiplang-Ce-ye
Mohan-DEF=TOP hunter-DEF become-NEG-FUT
'Mohan will not become a hunter.' (elicited)

2.3.2 Attributive clauses

In Amri Karbi, the attributive function is usually fulfilled by adjectival verbs that are nominalized and usually carry the possessive prefix *a-*. Since adjectival verbs are verbs, the verbal negative suffix *-Ce* is used when attributive clauses are negated, e.g. (23). However, since adjectival verbs are nominalized, nominal predicate negation strategy can also be used to negate adjectival verbs. So, to negate an attributive clause, the negative equational *kalek* can be used, but the negative existential *ingyong* can be used as well. Examples (23) and (24) show an adjectival verb *akime* ‘be.good’ being negated either with the standard negator (23b) or the negative equative *kalek* or the negative existential *ingyong* (20b), the meaning in both cases is the same. There is a symmetry between affirmative and negative attributive clauses in examples (23) and (24).

- (23) a. An *akime*.
 an a-ki-me
 rice POSS-NMLZ-be.good
 ‘Rice (generally) is good.’
- b. An *akimeme*.
 an a-ki-me-Ce
 3 POSS-NMLZ-be.good-NEG
 ‘Rice (generally) is not good.’ (elicited)
- (24) a. An *akime*.
 an a-ki-me
 rice POSS-NMLZ-be.good
 ‘Rice (generally) is good.’
- b. An *akime kalek/ingyong*.
 an a-ki-me kalek/ingyong
 rice POSS-NMLZ-be.good NEG.EQ/NEGEX
 ‘Rice (generally) is not good.’ (elicited)

When attributive clauses appear with different tenses, the constructions are partially symmetric. In the past tense the affirmative attributive clause involves the copula *do* that inflects for past tense; in the negative, the negative suffix attaches to the copula *do*, thus being symmetric. In the future tense, the adjectival verb itself functions as a verb and inflects for the future tense, while in the negative, the negative verbal suffix attaches to the adjectival verb, but the future tense is lost, thus being asymmetric, e.g. (25).

- (25) a. An akime kido.
 rice a-ki-me ki-do
 rice POSS-NMLZ-be.good PST-COP
 ‘(The cooked) rice was good.’
- b. An akime kidode.
 an a-ki-me ki-do-Ce
 rice POSS-NMLZ-be.good NMLZ-COP-NEG
 ‘(The cooked) rice was not good.’
- c. An akimeye/meye.
 an a-ki-me-ye/me-ye
 rice POSS-NMLZ-be.good-FUT/be.good-FUT
 ‘(The cooked) rice will be good.’
- d. An akimeme/meme.
 an a-ki-me-Ce/me-Ce
 rice POSS-NMLZ-be.good-NEG/be.good-NEG
 ‘(The cooked) rice will not be good.’ (elicited)

2.3.3 Existential clauses

Existential clauses that usually perform a presentative function are expressed by a combination of a noun and the copula *do* regardless of tense, where the copula *do* occurs clause-finally. The copula *do* may occur without TAM markers and has a present tense meaning and may inflect for TAM. Existential clauses are negated by the negative existentials *ingyong* or *we*, e.g. (26). The negative existentials *ingyong* and *we* may take some TAM markers; both *ingyong* and *we* may be marked with the realis *-lo* for the aspectual meaning, e.g. ‘no more’, and both *ingyong* and *we* may be marked with the future *-ye*, e.g. *weye* ‘will not be’. The negative existential *ingyong* also occurs with the aspect *-lang* ‘yet’, the imperative *-not* and the non-final verbal suffix *-si*. The past tense is not marked on the existential and is inferred through the context, which makes this pattern to be asymmetric. Subject arguments in negative existential clauses are usually definite. Examples (26–28) show an indefinite subject in the positive existential marked with the numeral *isi* ‘one’. If we replace the positive copula *do* with the negative *ingyong* in (26–28) the meaning will be *isi anijom ingyong* ‘one custom is missing’. So, the subject in the negative is identifiable and the numeral *isi* ‘one’ may no longer function as an indefinite marker in (26–28), but as the numeral ‘one’. On the other hand, since the obligatory possessive prefix *a-* is on the word *anijom*, it can also have a third person possessive reading of the existential clause

‘they do not have a custom/ he or she does not have a custom’. If we look at a noun without the obligatory possessive prefix *a-* (for example *tike* ‘tiger’) in (29), in the negative numeral *i-jon* ‘one-CLF.ANIM’ will again have a numeric meaning rather than indefinite and without the numeral, negation will induce the definite marker *-po* or an information structure topic =*ke*, focus =*si*, additive =*ta* or a plural *-hel/- (po)mar* on the subject, depending on the context.⁵

- (26) a. *Isi anijom do.*
 isi a-nijom do
 one POSS-custom COP
 ‘There is one custom.’
- b. *Anijom(po) ingyong/we.*
 a-nijom(po) ingyong/we
 POSS-custom-(DEF) NEGEX
 ‘There is no/was no/will not be custom.’ / ‘They do not have (the)
 custom.’ (natural data)
- (27) a. *Isi anijom ki-do.*
 isi a-nijom ki-do
 one POSS-custom PST-COP
 ‘There was one custom.’
- b. *Anijom(po) ingyong/we.*
 a-nijom(po) ingyong/we
 POSS-custom-(DEF) NEGEX
 ‘There was no custom.’ (elicited)
- (28) a. *Isi anijom doye.*
 isi a-nijom do-ye
 one POSS-custom COP-FUT
 ‘There will be one custom.’
- b. *Anijom(po) weye.*
 a-nijom(po) we-ye
 POSS-custom-(DEF) NEGEX-FUT
 ‘There will be no custom.’ (elicited)

⁵The negative copular verbs **ingyong* and *we* are generally in free variation. The copula *kangwe*, likely formed by the lexicalization of the nominalized negative copulas *ingyong* and *we* (with the initial vowel of *ingyong* dropped, as typical with the prefix *ing-* in Amri Karbi), is primarily used in possessive clauses, where *we* rarely occurs.

- (29) a. Tike ijon do.
 tike i-jon do
 tiger one-CLF:ANIM COP
 ‘There is one tiger.’
 b. Tike ijon ingyong.
 tike i-jon ingyong
 tiger one-CLF:ANIM NEGEX
 ‘One tiger is missing.’
 c. Tikepo ingyong.
 tike-po ingyong
 tiger-DEF NEGEX
 ‘There is no tiger.’ (elicited)

2.3.4 Possessive clauses

Amri Karbi possessive clauses employ the existential structure, which is a combination of a noun and a copula regardless of tense and mood. Similarly, to existential clauses, the copula in possessive clauses may inflect for tense and mood and appears clause-finally. Possessive clauses are negated by the negative existential *ingyong* or the negative existential *kangwe* ‘not.exist’, e.g. (30–31). The negative existential *ingyong* may be marked with the realis *-lo* (with the meaning ‘no more’), the future *-ye* and *-lang* ‘yet’; *kangwe* is a nominalized form and does not occur marked with TAM. Negative possessive clauses that appear in past time contexts imply past tense though the context (31). Possessive clauses in future, i.e. ‘I will have a house’ could not be produced.

- (30) a. Nehem do.
 ne-hem do
 1-house COP
 ‘I have a house.’ (lit. ‘My house exists.’)
 b. Nehem ingyong/kangwe.
 ne-hem ingyong/kangwe
 1-house NEGEX/not.exist
 ‘I do not have a house.’ (lit. ‘My house does not exist.’)
 c. Nehem kido.
 ne-hem ki-do
 1-house PST-COP
 ‘I had a house.’ (lit. ‘My house exists.’)

d. Nehem ingyong/kangwe.

ne-hem ingyong/kangwe

1-house NEG.EX/not.exist

‘I did not have a house.’ (lit. ‘My house did not exist.’) (elicited)

- (31) Atomo asarpe himepe ahem kangwe aret kangwe salkam katiki kaita kangwe.

a-tomo a-sar-pe hime-pe a-hem **kangwe** a-ret

POSS-story POSS-be.old-F widow-F POSS-house not.exist POSS-field

kangwe sal-kam ki-tiki kaita **kangwe**

not.exist work-work NMLZ-work nobody not.exist

‘A story about an old widow, (she) had no home, no field, nobody to work (with her).’ (natural data)

2.3.5 Locative predicate

Locative predicate clauses also use existential construction and are constructed with the copular verb *do* and one of the locative relator nouns, e.g. *-long* ‘LOC’. The copula *do* inflects for TAM and appears clause-finally. Locative predicates are negated by negative existentials *ingyong* or *we*, that occur clause-finally and may inflect for TAM as in existential clauses, e.g. (32–34). Locative predicate clauses in past time contexts may also infer past tense through the context (35).

- (32) a. Hikpo hem along do.

hik-po hem a-long do

dog-DEF house POSS-LOC COP

‘The dog is in the house.’

- b. Hikpo hem along ingyong.

hik-po hem a-long ingyong

dog-DEF house POSS-LOC NEGEX

‘The dog is not in the house.’ (elicited)

- (33) a. Hikpo hem along kido.

hik-po hem a-long ki-do

dog-DEF house POSS-LOC PST-COP

‘The dog was in the house.’

- b. Hikpo hem along ingyongo.

hik-po hem a-long ingyong-lo

dog-DEF house POSS-LOC NEGEX-R

‘There was no dog in the house (anymore).’ (elicited)

- (34) a. Hikpo hem along doye.
hik-po hem a-long do-ye
dog-DEF house POSS-LOC COP-FUT
‘The dog will be in the house.’
b. Hikpo hem along weye.
hik-po hem a-long we-ye
dog-DEF house POSS-LOC NEGEX-FUT
‘The dog will not be in the house.’ (elicited)
- (35) Anangai wang kilang ayokke ososo hemtak along ingyong.
anang-ai wang ki-lang a-yok=ke oso-so hemtak a-long
3-mother come NMLZ-look POSS-PURP=TOP child-DEF hut POSS-LOC
ingyong
NEGEX
‘When his mother came to look, the baby was not in the hut.’ (natural data)

2.3.6 Summary

There are three constructions for stative predications. One is the equative construction that is also used in class inclusion clauses; they are constructed with a nominal predicate in the present tense and involve a copular verb in the past and future. Other stative predicates - existential, possessive and locative - employ one existential construction that involves the copula *do*, which inflects for tense. The negation of stative predications does not involve the negative suffix *-Ce* that is used in standard negation. The equative clauses are negated with the negative equative *kalek* which does not inflect for tense. Negative existential clauses are constructed with the negative existentials *ingyong* and *we* for existential and locative clauses, *ingyong* and *kangwe* for possessive clauses. The negative existentials *ingyong* and *we* may inflect for TAM or may infer the tense through the context. Thus the pattern is asymmetric and possessives and locatives inherit this asymmetry from existentials.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Subordinate clauses are constructed by the nominalizer *ki-* marking the subordinate verb. Besides nominalization, subordination can also be generated by the realis non-final suffix *-si* or the irrealis *-ne*. The non-final suffix *-si* is used for subordination in declarative clauses and in the realis mood, whereas the non-final

suffix *-ne* is used for subordination of non-declarative clauses and declarative clauses in the irrealis mood. Nominalized subordinate clauses (36), (38), as well as those that are marked with non-final suffixes *-si/-ne* (37), are negated by the verbal negative suffix *-Ce*. Therefore, subordinate clauses use standard negation in a regular way without the asymmetry that was observed in the main clauses. The affirmative counterparts of the examples (36), (37), and (38) could be constructed by leaving out the negative suffix *-Ce*. The main reason for the symmetry is that there is usually no TAM marking in the subordinate clauses.

- (36) Parake anang bupeke kampihel kikatune ayok hem pademlo.
 parake anang bu-pe=ke kampi-hel **ki-kat-un-Ce**
 then 3 grandmother-FEM=TOP monkey-PL NMLZ-run-be.able-NEG
 a-yok hem padem-lo
 POSS-PURP house repair-R
 ‘And their grandma repaired the house so that monkeys could not run away.’ (natural data)
- (37) Manta phurulpoke chiklangklesi arlengposi kimead arlengposi
 chiklangdungsi wango.
 manta phurul-po=ke **chi-klang-Ce-si** arleng-po=si
 but snake-DEF=TOP RR-show-NEG-NFNL.R man-DEF=FOC
 ki-me-ad arleng-po=si chi-klang-dung-si wang-lo
 NMLZ-be.good-be.much man-m=FOC.R RR-show-near-NFNL.R come-R
 ‘But the snake did not show himself (as a snake) he came out as a handsome man.’ (natural data)
- (38) Lasi labadisi anang damman kihlonghle apor manta aneng arong doman.
 lasi labadi=si anang dam-man **ki-hlong-Ce** a-por manta
 so like.this=FOC.R 3 go-HAB NMLZ-get-NEG POSS-time but
 {aneng arong} do-man
 happy COP-HAB
 ‘So he goes hunting like this, even when he did not get (birds) he was happy.’ (natural data)

The subordinator *=lengke* ‘until’ (which is a negative polarity item, see §4.2) occurs with the negated main clause that marks the punctual ‘until’ for the event in the main clause to happen (40–41). The verb in the subordinate clause marked with *=lengke* is also negated. This phenomenon is called ‘expanded negation’ (Wälchli 2018: 145), where negation in temporal clauses in translation equivalents in many other languages lack negation. An ‘until’ clause in Amri Karbi

identifies the time when the event in the main clause may happen, happened or will happen. These negated adverbial clauses demonstrate an “extremely close relation between linguistic form and function” (Hetterle 2015: 145–146); in Amri Karbi, if the event in the adverbial clause marked with =*lengke* does not happen, the event in the main clause also does not happen. The ‘until’ clause marked with =*lengke* may also occur with an affirmative main clause (42), where the adverbial clause identifies a point of time until which the event of the main clause may last.

- (39) Lasi bekso niyok panghongtolo apor chokchelang apodsi.
 lasi bek-so ne-yok pa-inghong-tol-lo apor chok-Ce-**lang**
 so little-DIM 1-N.SUBJ CAUS-wait-send-R time finish-NEG-yet
 apod=si
 because=FOC
 ‘So I was asked to wait for sometime because time is not yet finished.’
 (natural data)
- (40) Chiklo jonni dordelengke anang jangchilangdundeyongo mengsurungpo
 ahem ayok.
 chiklo jon-ni dor-Ce=**lengke** anang
 month CLF:month-two complete-NEG=until 3
 nang=chi-làng-dun-Ce-yong-lò mengsurung-po a-hēm
 CIS=RR-look-follow-NEG-NEG.EX.COP-R fox-DEF POSS-house
 a-yok
 POSS-DIR
 ‘He (the crocodile) did not come to check (his children) at the fox’s house
 until two months had passed.’ (natural data)
- (41) Nanghem kihlenghlelengke nang labang hakpo phoun’e.
 nang-hēm ki-hleng-Ce=**lengke** nang la=bang hak-po
 2-house NMLZ-reach-NEG=until 2 DEM=GNR bucket-DEF
 pho-ùn-Ce
 open-be.able-NEG
 ‘Before you reach home, you cannot open the bucket.’ (natural data)
- (42) aro Herodpo thithelengke lalongsi dolo.
 aro Herod-po thi-Ce=**lengke** lalong=si do-lo
 and PN:Herod-M die-NEG=until there=FOC:R stay-R
 ‘and was there until the death of Herod’ (NT)

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Negative lexicalizations include ‘not yet’, ‘not exist’, ‘not be of identity’, ‘not know’, ‘cannot, not be able to’, ‘not want’, ‘not talk’, ‘not need’, ‘not enough’, ‘not like’, and ‘not see’ (cf. Veselinova 2013a). Some of these lexicalizations are treated in other sections, e.g. ‘not exist’ and ‘not be of identity’ are treated in §2.3, ‘not yet’ in §4.2 and ‘not want/not should’ is treated in §2.2.2.

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

In Amri Karbi, negation can be also achieved by derivational means. There is at least one predicate derivation *-kel* that yields a negative meaning without the verbal negative suffix. Example (43) shows the verb *arju* ‘hear’ marked with the predicate derivation *-kel* that gives meaning that the action denoted by the verb did not happen. In the example (44) *-kel* occurs with the verb *-hlong* ‘get’. The negative predicate derivation *-kel* is not a productive suffix and occurs mainly with the verbs that denote senses and perceptions.

- (43) Anangaipeke arjukelbakngo sal katiki along.
 anang-ai-pe=ke arju-kel-bak-lo sal ki-tiki a-long
 3-mother-F=TOP hear-NEG.DRV-INDF-R work NMLZ-work POSS-LOC
 ‘Its (baby’s) mother did not hear because of hard work.’ (natural data)
- (44) Arlengpo angsong para wangkisun ayokke bachik isi hlongkelo.
 arleng-po angsong para wang-ki-sun a-yok=ke
 man-DEF underneath para come-NMLZ-come.down POSS-NSUBJ=TOP
 bachik isi hlong-kel-lo
 basket one get-NEG.DRV-R
 ‘When the man came down from the tree (up to where the basket was) and did not get one basket (i.e. ‘one basket got missing’).’ (natural data)

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative and positive replies

The positive answer to a nominal predicate question is *oik* ‘yes’. The positive answer to a verbal predicate question can either be *oik* ‘yes’ or the verb itself, i.e. the verb is echoed in the answer, e.g. (45) or both *oik* ‘yes’ or the echoed verb. More research is needed to understand the reasons for this variation. Social and

pragmatic factors, such as the need for clarity, politeness, or emphasis in conversation, may influence the choice of a positive answer in some languages (see [Enfield et al. 2019](#)). The negative answer to a question always corresponds to the type of predication being used in the question. When a predicate in the question is a verb, the negative existentials *ingyong* or *we* are used; with stative questions, the negative equational *kalek* is used. This finding aligns with [Veselinova's](#) (2013b) observation that languages employ specific negative existentials, such as *ingyong* or *we*, for verbal predicates, while using forms like *kalek* to negate stative predicates. [Veselinova's](#) research illustrates how these constructions serve as effective standalone answers, relying on contextual clues to convey their full meaning. This approach underscores the importance of predicate-specific negation for clarity and precision, a pattern also evident in the Amri Karbi language. The predicate in the question can also be negated with the standard negation verbal suffix *-Ce* (46). Positive and negative answers to questions are asymmetrical in a way that there are two negatives used in the answers depending on the type of predicate, and there is only one positive *oik* 'yes' for all predicate types. Besides, in the answers with the echoed verb, the TAM distinction is preserved in the positive replies and is not preserved in the negative replies.

- (45) A: Anangke nangai ma?
 anang=ke nang-ai ma
 3=TOP 2-mother Q
 'Is she your mother?'

B: Oik.
 oik
 yes
 'Yes.' (elicited)

- (46) Q: Hik inguman ma?
 hik ingu-man ma
 dog bark-HAB Q
 'Does a dog bark?'

A: Oik./Inguman.
 oik/ingu-man
 yes/bark-HAB
 'Yes, (it) barks.' (elicited)

- (47) Q: Anangke nangai ma?

anang=ke nang-ai ma

3=TOP 2-mother Q

‘Is she your mother?’

A: Kalek.

kalek

NEG.EQ

‘No.’ (elicited)

(48) Q: Hik inguman ma?

hik ingu-man ma

dog bark-HAB Q

‘Does the dog bark?’

A: Ingyong./We./Inguge.

ingyong/we/ingu-Ce

NEGEX/NEGEX/bark-NEG

‘No, does not bark.’ (elicited)

Negative and positive replies to negative questions are similar to replies to positive questions and a negated predicate is usually repeated, e.g. (49–52).

(49) Q: Anangke nangai kalek ma?

anang=ke nang-ai kalek ma

3=TOP 2-mother NEG.EQ Q

‘Isn’t she your mother?’

A: Oik.

oik

yes

‘Yes.’ (elicited)

(50) Q: Hik inguge ma?

hik ingu-Ce ma

dog bark-NEG Q

‘Doesn’t the dog bark?’

A: Oik./Inguman.

oik/ingu-man

yes/bark-HAB

‘Yes/it barks.’ (elicited)

- (51) Q: Anangke nangai kalek ma?
anang=ke nang-ai kalek ma
3=TOP 2-mother NEG.EQ Q
'Isn't she your mother?'
A: Kalek.
kalek
NEG.EQ
'No.' (elicited)
- (52) Q: Hik inguge ma?
hik ingu-Ce ma
dog bark-NEG Q
'Is the dog barking?'
A: Ingyong./We./Inguge.
ingyong/we/ingu-Ce
NEGEX/NEGEX/bark-NEG
'No, not barking.' (elicited)

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Amri Karbi has three negative indefinites, listed in Table 3 along with the corresponding affirmatives. Out of the three, only *kaita* 'anybody/nobody' occurs in both positive and negative clauses, other indefinites, *iku* 'nothing' and *jat* 'never', occur only in negative clauses. The pronoun *kaita* 'nobody' is the only one that is constructed with the interrogative pronoun *kai* 'who', which is attached with the additive suffix =*ta* to form a universal (or non-specific) pronoun 'anybody'. The other pronouns *iku* 'nothing' and *jat* 'never' have Assamese origin. The pronoun *jat* 'never' may occur with the additive =*ta* sometimes. The pronoun *iku* can cooccur with the negative existential *ingyong*. Negative pronouns are used together with clausal negation, e.g. (53–55).

Table 3: Indefinites and quantifiers

	Negative	Affirmative
Person	<i>kaita</i> 'anybody' / 'nobody'	<i>kaibak/inghonebak</i> 'somebody'
Thing	<i>iku(si)/eku(si)/eko(si)</i> 'nothing'	<i>penebak</i> 'something'
Time	<i>jat/jatsi/jatta</i> 'never'	<i>daknebak/kanebak</i> 'sometime'

- (53) Kaita thektheto kaita ingyong holek.
 kai=ta thek-Ce-to kai=ta ingyong holek
 who=ADD see-NEG-EMPH who=ADD NEGEX here
 ‘Nobody will see, nobody is here.’ (elicited)
- (54) Ikusi tikikelangta.
 iku=si tiki-Ce-lang=ta
 nothing=FOC:R work-NEG-yet=ADD
 ‘Nothing has been done yet.’ (Mrs & Mrs gathering)
- (55) Israyel adak labadi jatsi thekhlonghleyong.
 israyel a-dak labadi jatsi thék-hlong-Ce-ingyong
 PN:Israel POSS-among like.this never see-get-NEG-NEGEX
 ‘It was never so seen in Israel.’⁶ (NT)

3.3 Negative derivation

There is no dedicated strategy to express the caritive in Amri Karbi. Meanings of ‘without’ / ‘-less’ / ‘un-’ on nouns are expressed with the negative existentials *we* or *kangwe* ‘not.exist’ that follow a noun, e.g. *lang (kang)we* (water NEGEX/not.exist) ‘waterless’ or literally ‘no water’, *perik (kang)we* (clothe NEGEX/not.exist) ‘naked, unclothed’ or literally ‘no clothes’. These nouns can modify other nouns e.g. (56).

On deverbal adjectives that are nominalized, meanings of ‘without’ / ‘-less’ / ‘un-’ are expressed with the negative suffix *-Ce* on a verb, e.g. *ki-krol-kre* NMLZ-believe-NEG ‘faithless’, literally ‘not believing’. These deverbal adjectives also modify nouns, e.g. (57). There is no other way of constructing a caritive from deverbal adjectives, so meanings like ‘unfaithful’ will have a similar form to ‘faithless’, i.e. *kikrolkre*. However, since deverbal adjectives are verbs, they can extend their meaning with the help of predicate derivational suffixes and, depending on the context, can express different meanings of the caritive by the same negative verbal suffix *-Ce* attaching to a predicate derivation suffix. For example, if a modal predicate derivation suffix attaches to a deverbal negative adjective or a caritive, it means ‘the lack of ability’, e.g. *ki-krol-un-e* ‘NMLZ-believe-be.able-NEG’ ‘unfaithful’ / ‘faithless’, literally ‘not being able to believe’.

- (56) Lang kangwe athem.
 lang kangwe a-them
 water nothing POSS-place
 ‘waterless region/place’ (NT)

⁶The construction *jatsi* verb-NEG-NEGEX is found to be used only in the realis mood.

- (57) Kikrolkre arleng.
ki-krol-Ce arleng
NMLZ-believe-NEG man
'unfaithful/faithless man' (NT)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Amri Karbi has a large class of semantically rich predicate derivation suffixes that attach to the right of the verbal root in slot 5 of the verbal template. This type of suffix is found in other Tibeto-Burman/Trans-Himalayan languages and has been labeled in a variety of ways (see Post 2010). I follow Post (2010) in choosing the term *predicate derivation suffixes*. There are about fifty-four predicate derivation suffixes found so far; these can be divided according to their subsequent functions: manner, result, direction, argument structure emphasis, aspect/aktionsart and others. When a verb with a predicate derivation suffix is negated, the negation has scope over either the predicate derivation, e.g. (58), or over the entire predicate, as in, e.g. (59) *thekdunde* 'I did not know'. Each predicate derivation allows only two options for scope of negation, i.e. either only on the predicate derivation or over the entire verb.

- (58) Borketke.
bor-ket-Ce
wrap-tight-NEG
'Wrap but not tightly.' (elicited)
- (59) potpotbadi chiporhelone ingyongne neke thekdunde potsi chininelo.
...pot~pot-badi chi-porhe-lo=ne ingyong=ne ne=ke thek-dun-Ce
what~what-as RR-learn-R=INDF NEGEX=INDF 1=TOP know-follow-NEG
potsi chini-Ce-lo
reason know-NEG-R
'I did not know whether they studied or not, because I do not know (I am uneducated).' (natural data)

4.2 Negative polarity

Besides the negative polarity items listed in §3.2 there are three more negative polarity items that can be marked on the verb. The first one is the modal predicate derivation suffix *-nang* that occurs only in the negation discussed in §2.2.2.

The second item is the aspect *-lang* ‘yet’ that indicates that something has not happened yet. This aspect occurs only with standard negation, e.g. (39). The third negative polarity item is the subordinator *=lengke* ‘until’, which was discussed in §2.4.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

It was observed in §2.3.3 that negative existential clauses cannot have unidentifiable subjects and the forms of negative possessive and existential clauses appear to be identical with inalienable subjects.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Negation can be reinforced with the conjunction *tene* ‘then’. The conjunction *tene* is usually used with conditional clauses in the consequence part. Example (60) contains an equative clause, where the predicate is a nominalized verb *ka-suru* ‘crying’ and *tene* is used to reinforce negation and occurs after the negative equational *kalek*.

- (60) Kasuru kalek tene khoi.
 ki-suru kalek tene khoi
 NMLZ-cry NEG.EQ then friend
 ‘This is not crying, friend.’ (natural data)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Subordination is usually marked by the nominalizer *ki-* or the non-final suffix *-si*. Complex clauses that have a positive subordinate clause and a negative main clause involve either the additive clitic *=ta* or the topic clitic *=ke* (depending on the intended meaning), marking a subordinate verb instead of the usual nominalization or non-final verb strategy. There is no dedicated coordinator for negative independent clauses which are coordinated by juxtaposition.

Subordinate clauses that can be translated as ‘even though’ are constructed by the additive *=ta*, when *=ta* marks a positive subordinate clause that is followed by a negative clause e.g. (61).

- (61) Aro khoi puta pasiselo.
 aro khoi pu=**ta** pasi-Ce-lo
 and friend say=ADD reply-NEG-R
 ‘Even though, he called him ‘friend!’ he did not reply.’ (natural data)

The topic =*ke* marks the quotative *pu* instead of the usual non-final suffix -*si* when the quotative *pu* cooccurs with the negation, e.g. (62).

- (62) Manta alang neyok sunnot puke nepupeyong.
manta alang ne=yok sun-not pu=**ke** ne=pu-Ce-ingyong
but 3 1=NSUBJ get.out-IMP say=TOP 1=say-NEG-NEGEX
'But he didn't say to me get out.' (natural data)

Two or more negative independent clauses are coordinated by juxtaposition. Example (63) shows three independent clauses appearing next to each without any conjunction.

- (63) Atomo asarpe himepe ahem kangwe aret kangwe salkam katiki kaita kangwe.
a-tomo a-sar-pe hime-pe a-hem kangwe a-ret
POSS-story POSS-be.old-F widow-F POSS-house not.exist POSS-field
kangwe salkam ki-tiki kaita kangwe
not.exist work-work NMLZ-work nobody not.exist
'Long time ago there was a widow, she had no home, no field, nobody to work (with her).' (natural data)

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

This section deals with miscellaneous aspects of negation. Negative transport (neg-raising), which is when a higher-clause negative is interpreted as negating a lower-clause predicate, does not occur in Amri Karbi.

Metalinguistic negation has not been found in the current Amri Karbi database. Since this type of negation is difficult to elicit, more natural data are needed in order to learn how metalinguistic negation is expressed in Amri Karbi.

Contrastive negation occurs several times in the database and is exemplified in (64). Example (64) shows that the first clause objects the previous utterance, it is negated and the second clause that conveys the correct information follows right after it. The objecting element of the proposition is the O argument of the verb *ap* 'shoot', which is marked with topic =*ke* in the objection part and the focus =*si* in the correction part of the proposition.

- (64) We arleng ayokke chiap'e tike ayoksi apmeta.
 we arleng a-yok=ke chi-ap-Ce tike a-yok=si
 NEGEX man POSS-NSUBJ=TOP RR-shoot-NEG tiger POSS-NSUBJ=FOC
 ap-ye=ta
 shoot-FUT=ADD
 '(We) do not shoot people, (we) will shoot tiger only.' (natural data)

Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation have not been attested in Amri Karbi.

5 Conclusion

The negative strategies in Amri Karbi are summarized in Table 4.

Table 4: Summary of the negation strategies in Amri Karbi

Negative markers	Functions
-Ce	general verbal negation suffix: habitual, potential, future, past
PST-V-Ce	past
-Ce-lo	'no more'
-Ce-bang	'not now, but after some time'
-nang-Ce	'should not'
-Ce-lengke	'not until'
-Ce-lang	'not yet'
-Ce-te	negative question particle
-Ce-yong	realis negation
-Ce-yong-lo	realis negation
ingyong	existential, locative
we	existential, locative
ingyong-lo	existential 'no more'
ingyong	possessive
kangwe	possessive
kalek	equational
-yek	prohibitive
-kel	negation of verbs with meaning of sense and perception

The negative suffix *-Ce* can occur as the only verbal operator, and the stem with the negative suffix can function as a general negative verb form for most TAM. The exception is the realis *-lo*, which requires the reduced negative existential *-yong* to form its negative. Besides, the realis *-lo* may have future meaning in the negative. The habitual *-man* is different from other forms in a way that it has only one negative form option, which is a basic V-NEG form. As a summary, Table 5 provides an overview of the main negative forms with the verb *dam* ‘go’ that has the negative duplifix *-de*.

Table 5: Affirmative and negative paradigm

Affirmative	Negative	Functions
<i>dam-bo</i> ‘will go’	<i>dam-de-lo</i> ‘will go no more’ <i>dam-de</i> ‘not going’	Potential <i>-bo</i>
<i>dame dam-ye</i> ‘will go’	<i>dam-de-ye</i> ‘will not go’ (cooccurrence with conditional clauses) <i>dam-de</i> ‘will not go’	Future <i>-ye</i>
<i>dam-bang</i> ‘going/will go’	<i>dam-de</i> ‘not going’ <i>dam-de-bang</i> ‘not going now, but will go after some time’	Irrealis <i>-bang</i>
<i>dam-lo</i>	<i>dam-de-yong</i> <i>dam-de-yong-o</i> <i>dam-de-lo</i> ‘future sense’	Realis <i>-lo</i>
<i>dam-man</i>	<i>dam-de</i>	Habitual <i>-man</i>
<i>ki-dam</i>	<i>ki-dam-de</i> <i>dam-de</i> <i>dam-de-yong</i>	Past <i>ki-</i>
<i>lag(e)</i> <i>un</i>	<i>nang-ne</i> <i>un-e</i>	Modal <i>nang</i> ‘want, should’; <i>un</i> ‘be.able’
<i>do</i>	<i>ingyong</i> <i>ingyongo</i> ‘no more’ <i>we</i>	Existential
Ø	<i>kalek</i> <i>kaleyong</i>	Equation
<i>cho-not</i>	<i>cho-nek</i>	Command

The negative form of an imperative has a dedicated construction, the prohibitive suffix *-yek*. The prohibitive suffix *-yek* is used for all types of imperatives, as a result the negative of imperative does not distinguish between formal

vs. informal forms. The modal suffix *-lag*, which is a borrowing, does not occur in the negative, and the older form *-nang* is used in the negative instead. In the negative polar questions, the verb has the negative suffix *-Ce* and the question particle is *=ma* as is in the positive polar questions. However, negative questions that involve the negative existential *ingyong* use the question particle *=te* instead of *=ma*. Equations are negated with the negative equative *kalek* that does not inflect for tense. Other stative predicates - existential, possessive and locative are negated with the negative existential *ingyong* and *we* for existential clauses, *ingyong* and *kangwe* for possessive clauses and *ingyong* and *we* for locative clauses. The negative existential *ingyong* and *we* may inflect for TAM.

Abbreviations

1	first person	IMP	imperative
2	second person	INCL	inclusive
3	third person	INDF	indefinite
ADD	additive	INTERACT	interactive
ASSUM	assumption	IRR	irrealis
AUG	augmentative	LOC	locative
AUTO	autobenefactive	M	masculine
BEN	benefactive	MAL	malefactive
CAUS	causative	NEG	negation
CIS	cislocative	NFNL	non-final
CLF	classifier	NMLZ	nominalizer
CONF	confirmation	NSUBJ	non-subject
COP	copula	NT	new testament
DECL	declarative	PL	plural
DEF	definite	POL	polite
DEM	demonstrative	POT	potential
DIM	diminutive	PRED.DERIV	predicate derivation
DIR	directive	PROH	prohibitive
DIST	distal demonstrative	PST	past
EE	elaborate expression	Q	question
EMPH	emphatic	QUOT	quotative
EQ	equative, equational	RED	reduplication
EX	existential	REP	reportative
EXCL	exclusive	REPL	reply
F	feminine	R	realis
FOC	focus	RR	reflexive-reciprocal
FUT	future	SG	singular
GNR	generic	SUPP	supposition
HORT	hortative	TAG	tag question
		VB	verb

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Negation in Geshiza

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This chapter offers a typologically and functionally motivated description of negation in Geshiza, a Horpa language of the Trans-Himalayan (Sino-Tibetan) language family. Geshiza has a wide range of negative morphology and negative constructions, including four distinct negator prefixes and two dedicated negative verbs. Morphologically negation in Geshiza belongs to the realm of verbs, contrasting with nouns and adjectives that lack dedicated means for being negated category-internally. The large inventory of negative morphology and particular constructions, e.g. the linking of negation and controllability, make negation in Geshiza a topic of interest to typologists. At the same time, the conservative negative morphology of Geshiza contributes towards understanding the history of negation in the Trans-Himalayan language family.

Keywords: negation, Geshiza, Horpa, Gyalrongic, languages of China.

1 On Geshiza

Geshiza (Glottocode: [gesh1238](#)) is a Horpa language of the Gyalrongic branch of the Trans-Himalayan/Sino-Tibetan language family (see [Sun 2000a,b](#) for establishing Gyalrongic as a sub-branch of the language family). Geshiza remains understudied, the language being spoken in Danba County of Sichuan Province in the People's Republic of China. In the Horpa language cluster, Geshiza belongs to the Central Horpa branch ([Sun 2019](#)), which makes it closely related to Stau, another partially documented Horpa lect. The language has approximately 8000 speakers who are officially classified as Tibetan by the Chinese State and also self-identify with the label. The Geshiza are predominantly argiculturalists who inhabit a mountain valley with prominent altitudinal differences. The geographical features of the homeland are encoded in the Geshiza language, most prominently in the form of “orientational” prefixes in the verbal system.

Author: Why is there no space in Sun 2000a,b? Please check that this is the house style.

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Geshiza is one of the two main Horpa varieties spoken in Geshiza valley, the other one being Dandong. The two form a dialect continuum with a high degree of mutual comprehensibility. This chapter uses Geshiza as a shorthand for Eastern Geshiza (Glottocode: [east2851](#)) spoken in Balang (Ge. *bəra*) Village at the proximity of Danba County Town. Consequently, it is worth noting that not everything discussed herein necessarily applies to all Geshiza dialects.

When examined against the [UNESCO \(2003\)](#) criteria, Geshiza appears endangered. This change, however, has taken place only recently, at least in its more dramatic forms. The endangerment of Geshiza reflects an ongoing widespread loss of languages in China that is especially happening in the Tibetsphere ([Roche 2017: 24](#)). As a result of extensive ongoing language contact with Chinese, Geshiza speakers are increasingly shifting into Mandarin Chinese, a change that is most prominently seen among the young and children. While Sichuanese Mandarin is gaining ground, the use of Standard Mandarin is also expanding due to education and media. In contrast, the Geshiza generally lack knowledge of any Tibetic languages in spoken or written form, even though Tibetic languages, such as a Kham lect known as the “Twenty-four villages’ patois,” are spoken in the immediate neighborhood of the Geshiza homeland.

Grammatically Geshiza exhibits many features known from earlier work on Gyalrongic and more broadly, Qiangic languages, a proposed branch of Trans-Himalayan (see [Chirkova 2012](#) for a critique on Qiangic as a valid genealogical unit). Geshiza has an extensive phoneme inventory comprising 8 full vowel phonemes and 37 full consonant phonemes, but tone plays no distinctive function in the language. While the morphology of nouns and other related word classes relies primarily on enclitics, Geshiza verbs show extensive morphological operations by means of affixation, stem modification, reduplication, and suppletion.

[Honkasalo \(2019\)](#) is a culturally anchored descriptive grammar aiming at sketching Geshiza’s main grammatical features. The present work builds on this grammar, the only work of previous research that extensively discusses negation in a Horpa language. Negation is also briefly mentioned in [Duo’erji \(1998\)](#), a grammatical sketch of Eastern Geshiza written in Chinese. The description and analysis offered here is based on the author’s *in situ* fieldwork among the Geshiza. The source materials include recorded texts from various speech genres, supplemented by monolingual elicitation and overheard examples. The monolingual fieldwork strategies include grammaticality judgements and asking Geshiza speakers to generate examples with selected words and expressions.

From the viewpoint of negation, Geshiza is of interest due to its multitude of negative constructions and rich negative morphology. Also, since the negative

morphology is generally conservative, it also contributes towards understanding the history of the Trans-Himalayan language family.

2 Clausal negation

This section discusses clausal negation in Geshiza. Six primary means for clausal negation exist in the language. The inventory includes four negative suffixes and two dedicated negative verbs: the negative copula *mja* ~ *mja* and the negative existential verb *ma*.

2.1 Standard negation

2.1.1 General principles of standard negation

Standard negation, namely the general and productive way(s) of negating verbal declarative main clauses (Miestamo 2005, Payne 1985) is expressed by two verbal prefixes in Geshiza: *mi-* and *mɛ-*. Standard negation is paradigmatically symmetric in the language, since all grammatical categories, including evidentiality, also occur in negative contexts.

When both a main verb and an auxiliary verb are present, the negators adjoin the main verb if the auxiliary is bound, and the auxiliary if the auxiliary is independent. To illustrate, with the bound causative auxiliary *-p^hə*, the main verb hosts the negator, as in the example pair (1) and (2). It should be noted that the examples include modal discourse enclitics, also known as “(sentence-)final particles” in the literature, conveying the speaker’s attitude, emotional state, and certainty (see Honkasalo 2019: 574–579 for an overview). Further research is needed to analyze the ways in which the ubiquitous modal discourse enclitics interact with polarity in Geshiza.

- (1) *vʒa=t^hə~t^hə* *jindɔ* *spa-p^hə-ræ=mɔ*.
 warm.season=TOP~RED strongly be.thirsty-CAUS.AUX.NPST.3-SENS=MOD
 ‘One feels very thirsty in the warm season.’ (elicited)
- (2) *rtso=nɔ* *mi-spa-p^hə-ræ=je*.
 cold.season=TOP.CNTR NEG-be.thirsty-CAUS.AUX.NPST.3-SENS=MOD
 ‘One does not feel very thirsty in the cold season.’ (elicited)

In turn, the experiential perfect is a complex aspect formed with a self-standing auxiliary *zda* ‘to have done something’ and a main verb in the perfective aspect, as in (3). The negator attaches to the independent auxiliary when the perfective aspect is negated, as in (4).

- (3) sop^ho æ-li dæ-ç^hoŋ zda.
 TOPN one-CLF.time PFV-go.PST.1 AUX.EXP.PERF
 ‘I have been to Suopo once.’ (personal history)
- (4) sop^ho dæ-ç^hoŋ mi-zda.
 TOPN PFV-go.PST.1 NEG-AUX.EXP.PERF
 ‘I haven’t been to Suopo.’ (accepted during elicitation; see 3)’

2.1.2 Distribution of the negators in standard negation

To understand the distributional properties of *mi-* and *mɛ-*, it is helpful to briefly investigate negation in Gyalrongic languages and the tense-aspect system of Geshiza. In East Gyalrongic (also known as Core Gyalrongic) languages, the selection of a standard negator is usually aspectually determined. For instance, [Prins \(2011: 529\)](#) interprets the difference of the negators *ma-* and *ji-* in Jiaomuzu Gyalrong in terms of aspectual contrast in which the former is used for the imperfective and the latter for the perfective aspect. Also, in a recent description of Luhuo Stau, a Horpa language related to Geshiza, [Tunzhi \(2019: 381–385\)](#) argues that the difference between the negators *ma=* and *mi=* is generally determined on the basis of tense, *ma=* appearing in past and *mi=* in non-past constructions. Such aspect and tense based systems are typologically common and widely attested.

The distribution of *mi-* and *mɛ-* is also aspectually determined, although the distributive conditions differ from other previous descriptions of Gyalrongic languages. The language has three prefixally expressed primary aspects: perfective (*dæ-*), imperfective (*gæ-*), and prospective (*zə-*): *dæ-ŋgu* ‘I ate’, *gæ-ŋgu* ‘I was eating’, *zə-ŋgu* ‘I am about to eat’. In the whole aspectual repertoire, the primary aspects appear most frequently. They are morphologically non-compositional and set the frame for the structurally more complex secondary aspects. Geshiza also has a “binary tense system” ([Comrie 1985: 48–49](#)) comprising the past and non-past tenses expressed through aspiration alternation in the consonants of the verb stem. It should be noted that since not all consonants participate in aspiration alternation, many verbs with no tense distinctions exists in Geshiza. As shown in [Table 1](#), aspect and tense are strongly linked in the language, allowing no free variation. For instance, the perfective aspect always co-occurs with the past tense. The imperfective aspect also always occurs with the past tense, but as some of the following examples show, its use is not strictly limited to a past time frame. Such scenarios are nevertheless formally marked as being in the past tense.

Table 1: Distribution of standard negation prefixes in Geshiza

Negative prefix	Aspect	Tense
<i>mi-</i>	aspectually neutral	non-past
<i>mɛ-</i>	prospective	non-past
<i>mɛ-</i>	imperfective	past
<i>mɛ-</i>	perfective	past

As Table 1 illustrates, the distribution of the two negators is explainable as follows. The negator *mi-* adjoins predicates that lack primary aspect marking and may thus be considered aspectually neutral. In contrast, the negator *mɛ-* appears in aspectually marked contexts where one of the primary aspect prefixes is present. Alternative explanations, e.g. in terms of tense, fail to explain the distribution of the negators. Examples (5-8) illustrate the distribution of negators in aspectually unmarked and prospective contexts. In terms of frequency, negated prospective predicates occur only rarely in Geshiza, contrasting with the relatively common negated imperfective and perfective predicates. Examples of standard negation with the imperfective aspects are offered in (9) and (10). The perfective aspect presenting a structural asymmetry is discussed subsequently.

No aspectual marking:

- (5) t^hævære lɣa=ɲə branɣu dʒi-ræ.
 recently child=PL TOPN EXVB.3-SENS
 ‘Recently, (our) children are (living) in Danba County Town.’
 (conversation)
- (6) t^hævære lɣa=ɲə branɣu mi-dʒi-ræ.
 recently child=PL TOPN NEG-EXVB.3-SENS
 ‘Recently, (our) children are not (living) in Danba County Town.’
 (accepted during elicitation; see 5)

Prospective aspect:

- (7) t^hævæ=t^hə zə-st^hoŋ=bɔ.
 now=TOP PROSP-finish.NPST.1PL=MOD
 ‘We are about to get finished now.’ (accepted during elicitation; see 8)

- (8) t^hævæ=t^hə zə-mε-st^hoŋ=bə.
 now=TOP PROSP-ASP.NEG-finish.NPST.1PL=MOD
 ‘We are not about to get finished now.’ (chronicle)

Imperfective aspect:

- (9) t^hævæ=t^hə~t^hə leska=be skəu gæ-rk^ha.
 now=TOP~RED work=too more IPFV-be.hard.PST
 ‘Now, work too is more tiring (than it used to be).’ (accepted during elicitation; see 10)
- (10) t^hævæ=t^hə~t^hə leska=be skəu gæ-mε-rk^ha.
 now=TOP~RED work=too more IPFV-ASP.NEG-be.hard.PST
 ‘Now, work too is less tiring (than it used to be).’ (lit. ‘Now, work too is being more non-hard.’) (local history)

2.1.3 Standard negation and symmetry

Negation in Geshiza largely maintains structural symmetry. In other words, the affirmative and the corresponding negative constructions are identical, save the presence of a negator in the latter. This can be seen in examples (11–12) with the imperfective aspect (see also the previous examples above).

- (11) bəvi skε gæ-tɕoŋ-s^hə=mde.
 this.year more IPFV-can.PST.1-INFR=MOD
 ‘This year I have been earning more than usual.’ (lit. ‘This year I have been more able.’) (accepted during elicitation; see 12)
- (12) bəvi skε gæ-mε-tɕoŋ-s^hə=mde.
 this.year more IPFV-ASP.NEG-can.PST.1-INFR=MOD
 ‘This year I have been earning less than usual.’ (lit. ‘This year I have been less able.’) (conversation)

The perfective aspect, however, is exceptional, since asymmetry commonly occurs in this context. The perfective aspect always requires prefixal marking. The standard perfective marker *dæ-* is incompatible with the negator *mε-*. Consequently, it is deleted in this context, which results in structural asymmetry. In (13), the speaker negates *dæ-v-ɕa* ‘he took’ as *mε-v-ɕa* ‘he did not take’, the symmetrical form **dæ-mε-v-ɕa* being ungrammatical:

- (13) tɕʰu æqɛ=ræ wnæ-sqʰa, wnæ-sqʰa-wtɕʰəu ŋuə-ræ. <ləupər>
 so all=LNK two-ten two-ten-six COP.3-SENS shopkeeper
 lməu=tʰə wnæ-sqʰa-wzæ=zɔ də-v-ɕa. sʰo kʰrə wne
 3.ERG=TOP two-ten-four=only PFV-INV-take.PST.3 more yuan two
 mɛ-v-ɕa.
 ASP.NEG-INV-take.PST.3.
 ‘(The bill) was 26 yuan. The shopkeeper took only 24 yuan. He did not
 take the two yuan.’ (chronicle)’

As the previous examples have shown, the other two aspects compatible with *mɛ-*, namely the imperfective and prospective, always retain overt aspectual marking in negation. Therefore, the sole appearance of *mɛ-* must always be interpreted as negation of the perfective aspect, not as a neutralization of aspectual distinctions in this context. The reasons behind the phenomenon remain unknown. In the closely related Stau language, perfective negation is achieved symmetrically.

Importantly, in contrast to the default perfective prefix *dæ-*, no asymmetries arise in negation when the perfective aspect is expressed by secondary markers of perfectivity. In addition to the directionally neutral perfective prefix *dæ-*, prefixes with orientational value, such as *rə-* ‘upwards, away from the river’ have a secondary function of marking perfectivity. However, no asymmetry in negations of such instances takes place, as seen in (14) and (15).

- (14) xaræ grə=nɔ rə-v-læ-sʰi ŋuə-mə-ræ.
 CONJ boat=LOC PFV.DIR-INV-let.3-NMLZ COP.3-EP-SENS
 ‘But (the boatman) took them in.’ (accepted during elicitation; see 15)
- (15) xaræ grə=nɔ rə-mɛ-v-læ-sʰi ŋuə-mə-ræ.
 CONJ boat=LOC PFV.DIR-ASP.NEG-INV-let.3-NMLZ COP.3-EP-SENS
 ‘But (the boatman) did not take them in.’ (mythical local history)

2.1.4 Controllability and deviation from standard negation

In aspectually neutral negation, a negator *mə-* surfaces in 18 identified cases where *mi-* would be expected (see Table 2 for a list).¹ In the context of *mɛ-*, the set of these 18 verbs behaves regularly. As shown in the pair (16) and (17), the aspectually neutral negation of the verb *v-se* ‘to know’ always takes the form *mə-*, *mi-* being ungrammatical.

¹In the table, verbs that are included with the negator *mə-* attached can only occur in a negative form while the rest can be used both with or without the negative prefix.

Table 2: List of verbs negated with the negator *mə-*

Modal verbs	Other verbs of low controllability
<i>mə-grə</i> ‘to not be able’	<i>dzo</i> ‘to fit in’
<i>mpə</i> ‘to be able’	<i>dzo</i> ‘to bear, able to put up with’
<i>ŋi</i> ‘to be fine, all right’	<i>mə-k^he</i> ‘to envy’
<i>sko</i> ‘to manage, be able’	<i>mnæ</i> ‘to (be able) to reach’
<i>snə</i> ‘to dare’	<i>v-ri</i> ‘to find’
<i>tɕ^ha</i> ‘to be able’	<i>v-se</i> ‘to know’
<i>vce</i> ‘to need, have to’	<i>st^hæ</i> ‘to finish’
<i>mə-ske</i> ‘should not’	<i>tɕɔ</i> ‘to feel comfortable’
Opportunistic perception verbs	
<i>nt^hje</i> ‘to hear’	
<i>vdo</i> ‘to see’	

- (16) *dæ-lmu-s^hi* *tɕ^hu æqe mə-səu=mɔ.*
 PFV-forget.1SG-INFN SO all MOD.NEG-know.NPST.1SG=MOD
 ‘I have forgotten, so I don’t know all of it.’ (conversation)
- (17) * *dæ-lmu-s^hi* *tɕ^hu æqe mi-səu=mɔ.*
 PFV-forget.1SG-INFN SO all NEG-know.NPST.1SG=MOD
 Intended meaning: ‘I have forgotten, so I don’t know all of it.’ (rejected during elicitation)

Since the distribution of *mə-* cannot be explained as an automatic phonological process, the subset of 18 verbs requires explaining.

The negator occurs together with modal verbs (*snə* ‘to dare’, *tɕ^ha* ‘to be able’), OPPORTUNISTIC PERCEPTION VERBS (*nt^hje* ‘to hear’, *vdo* ‘to see’; see Honkasalo 2019: 647 for details), and several other verbs (*v-se* ‘to know’, *tɕɔ* ‘to be, feel comfortable’). This distribution is hardly accidental. Rather, all three groups denote low level of control by the subject. Consequently, *mə-* appears as a negator of modal verbs and several verbs of uncontrollable action. As a shorthand it is glossed as MOD.NEG ‘negator of modal verbs’ here. Previous studies on Trans-Himalayan languages, such as Sandman (2016) on Wutun, have shown that controllability is sometimes embedded into the grammatical systems of these languages. In a similar fashion, Geshiza negation reflects this as well. The existing

forms may be remnants of a more productive historical pattern that has largely disappeared from the language.

A formally and functionally identical cognate of *mə-* may also exist in some dialects of the closely related Stau language, although vowel harmony that operates in the language and thus alters the surface level realizations of vowels presents some challenges for confirming this (personal fieldwork on the Poxiu dialect, possibly 15 identified cases of verbs negated with *mə-*). The sets of verbs using *mə-* in both languages largely overlap. In addition, a cognate is attested in the extinct Tangut language where Jacques (2011) reports *mji*¹ ‘negation of modal verbs’ formally resembling *mji*¹ with the function of ‘basic negation’. East Gyalrongic languages, however, lack a corresponding phenomenon. The modal negator consequently constitutes another feature highlighting the closeness of Tangut to West Gyalrongic languages, an ongoing topic of Gyalrongic research.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Negation of non-declaratives in Geshiza is determined by the reality status of the underlying mood. Reality status is coded in the language’s grammar where two main categories, namely irrealis and realis moods, are identified. Except for the imperative that uses the same prefixes as the indicative, individual moods are in turn marked by vowel prefixes that fuse with the multifunctional “directional” prefixes of verbs. Realis moods consist of indicative, non-actual realis, and interrogative. Non-actual realis is a term for a Geshiza realis mood referring to habitual action or planned non-initiated action in the future (see Honkasalo 2019: 563–564 for more). In turn, imperative and optative are classified under irrealis. The irrealis moods have a dedicated structure different from standard negation.

Like many languages of the region, Geshiza general imperatives use a multifunctional verbal prefix that marks orientation, aspect, and mood, as illustrated in (18). Prohibitives (i.e., negative imperatives) cannot be formed with the standard negation strategy, as illustrated in the pair (19) and (20). Instead, the construction requires the irrealis negator *di-* ~ *dzi-* that occurs paradigmatically in the same slot with the other negators in the Geshiza verbal template. Note that as illustrated in the examples, the preferred prefix in general imperatives and prohibitives may also differ, a topic that needs further research.

- (18) *dza wə-tʰi*.
 tea IMP-drink.NPST.2SG
 ‘Have some tea!’ (addressing the author)

- (19) ɕʰældæn non tɕʰæræ mi-ndzə. dæ-di-tʰi.
 bottle inside thing NEG-EXVB.3 IMP-IRR.NEG-drink.NPST.2SG
 ‘There is nothing inside the bottle. Don’t drink from it!’ (overheard)
- (20) *ɕʰældæn non tɕʰæræ mi-ndzə. dæ-mi-tʰi.
 bottle inside thing NEG-EXVB.3 IMP-NEG-drink.NPST.2SG
 Intended meaning: ‘There is nothing inside the bottle. Don’t drink from it!’ (rejected during elicitation; see 19)

From a formal viewpoint, the prohibitive exhibits lack of parallelism vis-à-vis the other negative prefixes. Unlike all other negative prefixes that share the initial *m* and vary in their vowels, the irrealis negator has a different initial and maintains the vowel *i* constantly. Seen from a semantic perspective, the prohibitive is generally restricted to negate actions and processes that can be controlled by a sentient being capable of changing its behavior. Consequently, stative verbs, such as *nəu* ‘to be deep’ and *pʰru* ‘to be white’, are usually not negated with the prohibitive.

Finally, examined against the typology of *van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev) (2013)*, Geshiza belongs to type 2, namely “the verbal construction of the second singular imperative and a sentential negative strategy not found in (indicative) declaratives.” This cross-linguistically most common type is typical for languages of East and Southeast Asia.

Optatives, another irrealis mood, are formed with the prefix *-a-* fusing with a verbal multifunctional prefix. Semantically the optative carries cupitive and prescriptive tones, the former illustrated in (21). Optatives in Geshiza are frequently used in what *Aikhenvald (2010)* calls non-canonical imperatives, namely commands and requests to someone other than the addressee. Like the imperative, optatives must be negated with the irrealis negator (22), since the standard negation is deemed ungrammatical, as in (23).

- (21) n-a-mdær
 PFX-OPT-bite
 ‘Let (the hornet) bite you!’ (addressing the author, joke)
- (22) n-a-di-mdær
 PFX-OPT-IRR.NEG-bite
 ‘Let (the hornet) not bite you!’ (accepted during elicitation; see 21)

- (23) * n-a-mi-mdær

PFX-OPT-NEG-bite

Intended meaning: ‘Let (the hornet) not bite you!’ (rejected during elicitation; see 22)

Cognates for the Geshiza irrealis negator *di-* ~ *dzi-* are widely attested in Trans-Himalayan languages where the proto-form is usually reconstructed as *ta ~ da and labeled as prohibitive (see Matisoff 2003: 586). The prohibitive function has been inherited into many modern Trans-Himalayan languages as well. In Geshiza, analyzing *di-* ~ *dzi-* as a dedicated prohibitive marker would be somewhat misleading. First, as shown above, the suffix is required by all irrealis moods, including the optative. Second, it also appears in counterfactual irrealis scenarios where no other formal markers of irrealis status are present, as shown in (24). For this reason, I analyze it more broadly as an irrealis marker, rather than as a dedicated prohibitive. If more languages having reflexes of *ta ~ da behaving similar to Geshiza are documented, it will be possible to postulate that even in the proto-language, a primary irrealis function likely existed. At the current stage of research the analysis remains inconclusive.

- (24) æpa=ke bɔ də-dzi-jon=ræ də-dzi-əməmoŋ=ræ
 father=DAT thus PFX-IRR.NEG-say.1=LNK PFX-IRR.NEG-discuss.1=LNK
 mə-ŋi-ræ=gæ. ŋɛ væ ŋuə tɕʰu jon-mə.
 MOD.NEG-be.allright-SENS=MOD 1SG.GEN dad COP.3 DM say.1-EP

‘It is not fine for me not to tell thus (e.g. all these things) to my father and discuss (them with him). He is my dad, I am saying!’ (conversation)

As discussed above, questions in Geshiza are realis, with the result that they are negated with the standard negation prefixes in the limited contexts where this is allowed. Negative questions are never used as a strategy for gaining information, shown in the pair (25) and (26).

- (25) g-i-vjin.

IPFV-Q-be.hungry.2

‘Are you hungry?’ (overheard, addressing the author, multiple occurrences)

- (26) * g-i-mɛ-vjin.

IPFV-Q-ASP.NEG-be.hungry.2

Intended meaning: ‘Are you not hungry?’ (rejected during elicitation; see 25)

Rather, negative questions occur in the pragmatic context of rhetorical questioning and “auto-interrogation” (‘I wonder’). This is illustrated in (27) that would be rendered ungrammatical if the auto-interrogation enclitic =*goŋ* was absent.

- (27) <tsope> mɛ-stəu tɕ^hu <ləusə>=wo
 homework ASP.NEG-finish.PST.1SG so teacher=ERG
 æ-mi-v-dæ=goŋ.
 Q-NEG-INV-punish.3=Q
 ‘I haven’t finished the homework, so I wonder if my teacher will (lit.
 won’t) punish me.’ (elicited)

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Geshiza existential and copular predications use both standard negation and dedicated expressions. Copular predications in the language contain a copula together with a copular subject and a copular complement. Their functional range covers identity or (in)equation, group (dis)membership or inclusion/exclusion, and attribution. The copula *ɲuə* ‘to be’ conjugates like an ordinary verb and has a dedicated negative counterpart *mɲa* ~ *mja* ‘not to be’. As shown in the example set (28–30), the negative copula cannot be replaced by standard negation in Geshiza.

- (28) bɔ gæ-tɕ^hæ ɲoŋ-ræ=gæ.
 thus ADJZ-big COP.1-SENS=MOD
 ‘We are that big.’ (conversation)
- (29) bɔ gæ-tɕ^hæ mɲoŋ-ræ=gæ.
 thus ADJZ-big NEG.COP.1-SENS=MOD
 ‘We aren’t that big.’ (accepted during elicitation; see 28)
- (30) * bɔ gæ-tɕ^hæ mi-ɲoŋ-ræ=gæ.
 thus ADJZ-big NEG-COP.1-SENS=MOD
 Intended meaning: ‘We aren’t that big.’ (rejected during elicitation; see 29)

While synchronically non-analytical, the Geshiza negative copula possibly originates from a coalescence of a standard negation marker attaching the affirmative copula: *mV-ɲV (here V represents unclear exact vowel values of the reconstructed forms). The recently sketched Lamo language related to Geshiza and other Gyalrongic languages shows that in some related languages, standard

negation can be applied to the copula. Nevertheless, if the fusional hypothesis has historical validity, its future elaborations should offer an explanation for the somewhat unexpected phonological outcomes of the fusion.

Existential and locative verbs abound in languages of Southwestern China (Sun 2001: 170). Their inventory in Geshiza includes six verbs, the selection of which depends on several factors, such as the animacy of the referent (animate, inanimate); locus of existence (containment, attachment, etc.); and alienability (alienable, inalienable). Table 3 summarizes the attested existential and locative verbs together with their negations and basic properties.

Table 3: Existential and locative verbs and their properties in Geshiza

Verb	Negation	Animacy	Locus	Alienability
<i>də</i>	<i>ma</i>	inanimate	general	not relevant
<i>wi</i>	<i>mi-wi</i>	inanimate	attachment	inalienable
<i>ndzə</i>	<i>mi-ndzə</i>	not relevant	container	not relevant
<i>dzi</i>	<i>mi-dzi</i>	animate	general	not relevant
<i>mdzi</i>	<i>mi-mdzi</i>	animate	group	not relevant

As can be seen, negative existential and locative predications are largely formed analytically by means of standard negation. To illustrate, standard negation applies to the existential-locative verb *dzi* in (31).

- (31) e bændi-næmk^ha=t^hə mi-dzi-ræ t^hə p^he æ-yi=t^hə
 INJ PN-PN=TOP NEG-EXVB.3-SENS DEM other one-CLF.person=TOP
 dzi.
 EXVB.3
 ‘Bændi-næmk^ha is not (at home), but another person (of his family) is.’
 (chronicle)

In contrast, the general inanimate existential-locative verb *də* cannot be negated with standard negation (**mi-də*), but has a dedicated non-analytic negative counterpart *ma*, illustrated in (32) and (33). As discussed in Veselinova (2013b), this conforms to a general cross-linguistic tendency of applying a special negation strategy for negative existentials.

- (32) vdzi æ-yi=je rjəu æ-vtɕa bə^htə=t^hə ŋzɖolu
 man one-CLF.person=GEN wife one-CLF.pair like.that=TOP custom

də-ræ.

EXVB-SENS

‘There is a custom of a man marrying two women.’ (ethnographic explanation)

- (33) vdzi æ-yi=je rjəu æ-vtɕa bɔt^hə=t^hə ɲɛdɔlu
man one-CLF.person=MOD wife one-CLF.pair like.that=TOP custom
ma-ræ.

NEGEX-SENS

‘There is no custom of a man marrying two women.’ (accepted during elicitation; see 32)

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Non-main clauses in Geshiza use standard negation, and the language shows no dedicated negative constructions in this context. Three main subordinate clause types exist in the language: adverbial, complement, and relative clauses. Syntactically, subordinate clauses precede main clauses. Both finite and non-finite subordinate clauses are attested, depending on the construction. Negation in such complex clauses frequently appears in the main clause, rather than in a subordinate clause, such as ‘I saw that she’s not coming’. In reported speech, however, a subtype of complementation with verbs of speech and cognition as the main clause predicates, the subordinate clause commonly appears as negated, as in (34).

- (34) brangu mi-ɕoŋ=bɔ də-jɔŋ.
TOPN NEG-go.NPST.1=MOD PFV-say.1
‘I said that I am not going to Danba County Town.’ (chronicle)

Negative relative clauses frequently appear in a double negative construction discussed in §4.6.1.

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Geshiza has relatively few negative lexicalizations, such as *mk^huə* ‘to lack’. Most prominently, the affirmative copula *ɲuə* has a negative counterpart *mɲa* ~ *mja*. In a similar fashion, the language has a dedicated negative existential verb *ma* that corresponds to the affirmative inanimate existential verb *də*. These two negative lexicalizations are discussed in detail in §2.3. The lexicon of the language also

includes three identified verbs that must always be negated and can thus be seen as borderline cases of negative lexicalizations (see §4.6.2).

The modal auxiliary verb *vce* ‘to want, need’ has an irregular stem in aspectually neutral negation where *mə-ce* in lieu of **mə-vce* appears, as in example (35). In aspectual negation, the fully regular form *mɛ-vɕ^he* is used, as shown in (36).

- (35) *stɕæn* *mə-ɕe*.
 be.afraid.NPST.2 MOD.NEG-need-NPST
 ‘You need not be afraid.’ (folktale)
- (36) *lmæ=ɲə=ke k^hoŋ* *mɛ-vɕ^he* *tɕ^ha s^ho*
 3=PL=DAT give.NPST.1PL ASP.NEG-need.PST COND more
ru-ræ=gæ.
 find.1SG-SENS=MOD
 ‘If we didn’t have to give them (a part of the earnings), I would earn even more.’ (conversation)

The irregular negative form of the modal auxiliary cannot be explained as a result of morphophonemics. Rather, it is better viewed as an irregular quasi-fusional form that has some properties of negative lexicalizations. Typologically, negative lexicalizations frequently develop from fusional negated forms. As a well known example, the Latin verb *nolō* ‘to wish not, not want’ originates from the negation of *volō* ‘wish, want’ (Walde & Hofmann 1938: 829). Geshiza *mə(-)ce* is similar to this. Finally, Veselinova (2013a) shows that negative lexicalizations are not random, but surface in limited semantic domains. ‘To not want’ discussed above is one such domain, and Geshiza thus reflects this typological tendency.

3 Non-clausal negation

This section addresses non-clausal negation in Geshiza. Most negative morphology in the language pertains to the domain of verbs. Save one exceptional case, no dedicated negative indefinites and quantifiers have been identified. Also, non-verbal word classes cannot be morphologically negated, except when individual lexical items derive from verbs.

3.1 Negative replies

Geshiza has a negative interjection *?ãxã* used for forming negative replies to polar questions. The language nevertheless prefers a verb-echo (repetition-type)

strategy (see [Holmberg 2015](#)), namely echoing the verb of the question, either in affirmative or negative form. With a sample of 14 languages, [Enfield et al. \(2019\)](#) show all of the analyzed languages allowed both interjection-type answers and repetition-type answers to polar questions, but showed different frequencies for the two. To illustrate the repetition-strategy more common in the source materials collected from Geshiza, the question in (37) that serves as a conventional greeting among the Geshiza in the evening when people return home from work is answered both in the affirmative (38) and in the negative (39) by echoing the stative verb *rka* ‘to be tired’:

- (37) d-i-rk^ha.
 PFX-Q-be.tired.PST
 ‘Are you tired?’ (lit. ‘Did you get tired?’) (overheard)
- (38) æ-nts^hæ rka-ræ=bɔ.
 one-CLF.little.bit be.tired.NPST-SENS=MOD
 ‘I am a little bit tired.’ (addressing the author, notice also how the answer is in the non-past tense)
- (39) mɛ-rk^ha.
 ASP.NEG-be.tired.PST
 ‘I’m not tired.’ (lit. ‘I did not get tired.’) (overheard)

As mentioned previously, Geshiza never uses negative questions to elicit information. Consequently, in the language it cannot be determined whether negative replies negate the proposition or disagree with the polarity of the question.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Geshiza has few if any dedicated indefinites and quantifiers. Most basic, i.e. non-derived, interrogative pro-forms of Geshiza also carry an indefinite function, a typologically well-known tendency (see [Dixon 2012](#): 401, [Haspelmath 1997](#): 170–179, [Kahrel 1996](#)). They are further compatible with negative predicates, but must be accompanied with the contrastive topic marker (40–41).

- (40) ɲi s^hədə rə-tjin.
 2SG when DIR-come.NPST.2
 ‘When are you coming?’ (elicited)

- (41) $s^h\acute{a}d\acute{a}=n\acute{o}$ $r\acute{a}-mi-tjan=b\acute{o}$.
 when=TOP.CNTR DIR-NEG-come.NPST.1=MOD
 ‘I will never come!’ (elicited)

The echo-like partially reduplicated $s^h\acute{a}d\acute{a}s^h\acute{a}p\acute{a}u$ ‘never’ derives from $s^h\acute{a}d\acute{a}$ ‘when’ and requires a negative predicate. Exceptionally, $s^h\acute{a}d\acute{a}s^h\acute{a}p\acute{a}u$ is the only attested negative indefinite pronoun, other interrogative pronouns lacking corresponding derivations. Example (42) semantically corresponds to (41).

- (42) $s^h\acute{a}d\acute{a}s^h\acute{a}p\acute{a}u$ $r\acute{a}-mi-tjan=b\acute{o}$.
 never DIR-NEG-come.NPST.1=MOD
 ‘I will never come!’ (elicited)

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Geshiza uses case enclitics for coding semantic roles. The grammar of the language lacks dedicated cases for expressing the absence of something, such as the Finnish Abessive *-tta* in *ongelmitta* ‘without problems’. Equally, a without-postposition does not exist in the repertoire of postpositions in Geshiza.

Nouns and adjectives cannot be negated category-internally in Geshiza. Only adjectives and nouns that are derivations rarely appear with negation in the language. In other words, negating the source category, namely verbs, offers the only pathway for deriving negative nouns and adjectives. The process is consequently represented as verb > negated verb > nominalization or adjectivization, as in (43). The nominalizer is almost always the productive agentive nominalizer *-me*, the rare agentive nominalizer *-pa* occurring only in few non-productive instances, such as in *mi-ntc^ho-pa*, an alternative to *mi-ntc^ho-me* ‘poor person’.

- (43) $ntc^h\acute{o} > mi-ntc^h\acute{o} > mi-ntc^h\acute{o}-me$
 have > NEG-have > NEG-have-NMLZ
 ‘to have’ (verb) > ‘not to have’ (negated verb) > ‘poor person’
 (nominalization of the negated verb)

The derivation of negative adjectives is subject to more restrictions. Like other Horpa languages of which research exists, Geshiza has three types of adjectives: prefixed ($g\acute{x}-tc^h\acute{x}$ ‘big’), reduplicated ($d\acute{a}u\sim d\acute{a}u$ ‘small’), and non-marked ($r\acute{p}o\eta ba$ ‘old’). Of these, the prefixed and reduplicated adjectives derive from verbs. Only the prefixed adjectives appear with a negator in negative adjectivizations (44). Similar formations from reduplicated and non-marked adjectives are deemed ungrammatical, with the result that they can only be negated with the negative copula (see §2.3), a strategy equally applicable to prefixed adjectives as well.

- (44) *mdze* > *mi-mdze* > *gæ-mi-mdze*
 be.beautiful > NEG-be.beautiful > ADJZ-NEG-be.beautiful
 ‘to be beautiful’ (verb) > ‘not to be beautiful’ (negated verb) >
 ‘non-beautiful’ (adjectivalization of the negated verb)

4 Other aspects of negation

This section discusses major phenomena that occur in connection with negation in Geshiza. Several of such phenomena rely on pragmatic factors coded by information structure enclitics.

4.1 The scope of negation

The scope of negation in Geshiza is manipulated by the use of the information structure enclitics, which often leads into contrastive interpretations, as in (45) with the topic enclitic =*t^hə*.

- (45) *goŋma=t^hə mɲa-ræ. p^he ɹpən, t^hə ɹpən ŋuə-ræ.*
 emperor=TOP NEG.COP.3-SENS other leader DEM leader COP.3-SENS
 ‘He is not an emperor. (He is) a different leader. He is a leader.’ (local history)

4.2 Negative polarity

Negative polarity refers to expressions attested only in the negative context. In addition to *s^hədəs^həɲəu* ‘never’ discussed in §3.2, the Geshiza source materials contain only one negative polarity item, namely the discourse intensifier =*m(d)e* ‘only, no more/other than, apart from, besides’ that requires a negated predicate (46–47).

- (46) *bjəwa æ-lə=je ts^hetsæ=mde mi-ntɕ^ho-ræ=mɔ.*
 mouse one-CLF.INDF=GEN life.span=only NEG-have.NPST.3-SENS=MOD
 ‘He only has the life span of a mouse.’ (i.e., ‘He will die very soon.’)
 (folktale)
- (47) *t^hævæ=t^hə <sents^həntui> ws^hu=mde mɛ-stoŋ=wo*
 now=TOP production.unit three=only ASP.NEG-finish.PST.1PL=cause
s^ho s^ho <sents^həntui> æ-vtɕa ntɕ^hoŋ=mɔ.
 more more production.unit one-CLF.pairs have.NPST.1PL=MOD
 ‘Because we have finished only three production units, we still have two more production units (to finish).’ (procedure)

In some languages, such as Japanese with *sika* and Tibetan with *ma gtogs*, the morpheme ‘only’ is compulsorily accompanied by a negator, and Geshiza follows this pattern. An interpretation of *=mde* as an intensifier ‘even’, as in ‘He doesn’t even have the life span of a mouse’ for (46) cannot be justified. In (48), the speaker narrates his daily activities when the author was visiting his village. Since the day had been busy for both, there was time to eat cup noodles only, unlike the more elaborate meals that the Geshiza frequently enjoy. Consequently, the speaker conveys the message that no other kind of food was available. Examples like this strongly support the semantic interpretation of ‘only’ for *=m(d)e*.

- (48) bəsni=t^hə mdzo=ke <fænbiænmiæn>=mde mɛ-ŋgoŋ-s^hə-mə.
 today=TOP lunch=DAT cup.noodles=only ASP.NEG-eat.1PL-INFR-EP
 ‘Today we had only cup noodles for lunch.’ (chronicle)

4.3 Marking of NP in the scope of negation

As mentioned previously, negation does not affect case marking in Geshiza. In terms of information structure enclitics, however, negation commonly cooccurs with noun phrases marked with the contrastive topic marker *=nə* (see §3.2, §4.4).

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Negation in Geshiza is frequently reinforced with two main strategies: the use of an adverb and a versatile discourse enclitic. Geshiza has an inherently reduplicated adverb *kəŋkən* that together with a negative predicate conveys the meaning ‘at all’, as in (49).

- (49) kəŋkən lməu rejuçəmə mi-stɕ^hə-mə-ræ-jə.
 ADV 3.ERG front.teeth NEG-show.NPST.3-EP-SENS-REP
 ‘It is said that she does not show her front teeth at all.’ (folktale)

While frequently appearing paired with a negative predicate, *kəŋkən* is not a negative polarity item. In interrogative contexts, the adverb expresses the notion of ‘on earth’, illustrated in (50). In positive polarity contexts, it conveys the notion of ‘fully, completely’, as in (51).

- (50) ɲi k^hə kəŋkən s^hə=ke=k^ha stɕæn jə.
 2SG INJ ADV who=DAT=about fear.NPST.2 say.3
 ‘“Who on earth are you afraid of?” he said.’ (joke)

- (51) e sme kəŋkən=t^hə wməŋja=zɔ də-t^hje-s^hi
 DEM woman ADV=TOP hair=only PFV-become.PST.3-NMLZ
 ŋuə-ræ=bɔ, æ-ŋuə-ræ.
 COP.3-SENS=MOD Q-COP.3-SENS
 ‘That lady had become completely covered with hair (because of living in
 isolation away from other human beings and civilization), right?’
 (folktale)

In addition, the information structure enclitic =nɔ is frequently used to re-inforce negation. The enclitic covers a wide semantic range, but I analyze the marking of contrastive topic as the central function. To illustrate, in (52) involving a conversation of two participants, =nɔ indicates that while the speaker finds Balang Village close to Danba County Town pleasant to live in, other villages further away from the County Town are less so in his opinion.

- (52) bəra=nɔ tɕɔ-re. p^he tɕædzɪ
 TOPN=TOP.CNTR be.pleasant.NPST-SENS.MOD other distant
 mə-tɕɔ-ræ.
 MOD.NEG-be.pleasant.NPST-SENS
 ‘Balang is pleasant! Other (villages) far away aren’t pleasant.’
 (conversation)

The enclitic is frequently found adjoining the constituent preceding the predicate verb, as in (53) where it emphasizes æ-nts^hæ ‘a little bit’:

- (53) ŋa=t^hə æ-nts^hæ=nɔ mɛ-vdo=je.
 1SG=TOP one-CLF.little.bit=TOP.CNTR ASP.NEG-see.1SG=MOD
 ‘I haven’t seen him around at all!’ (conversation)

When putting emphasis on the predicate verb itself, the verb must be repeated, as illustrated in (54).

- (54) yæ-ŋguæ lxua=nɔ mi-lxua-ræ.
 ten-five appear.3=TOP.CNTR NEG-appear.3-SENS
 ‘There is no way I will get 150,000 yuan!’ (conversation; 15 refers to units
 of 10,000)

Finally, a clitic may attach directly to a negator, in which case it is detached from the predicate and also replicated in its canonical position as a verbal prefix (55).

- (55) t^hə ɲæ=ɲu tɕ^həs^ho mə=nɔ mə-san.
 DEM 1=PL.ERG DM MOD.NEG=TOP.CNTR MOD.NEG-know.NPST.1PL
 ‘We (the younger generations) have no idea at all about that.’ (local history)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Negation does not affect coordination in Geshiza (56).

- (56) dəu~dəu t^hu æ-li d-ə-v-dæ æ-li
 RED.ADJZ~small DEM.ERG one-CLF.time PFX-NACTL-INV-do.3 one-CLF.time
 d-ə-mi-v-dæ.
 PFX-NACTL-NEG-INV-do.3
 ‘The small one (i.e. younger brother) carried out the tasks sometimes and sometimes he did not.’ (folktale)

Geshiza lacks any dedicated negative coordinators. The conjunction *mɛ-mja* ~ *mɛ-mja* ‘either...or’ is etymologically related to the negated negative copula. Like all double negation in Geshiza, it follows the general principle of *duplex negatio affirmat* (57).

- (57) <xoko>, mɛmja <xoko> ɲgə d-ə-ɕoŋ. mɛmja
 hot.pot either hot.pot eat.INF PFX-NACTL-go.NPST.1 either
 <ɬɕ^huæntɕ^huæntɕan> ɲgə ɕoŋ.
 meat.skewers eat.INF go.NPST.1
 ‘Let’s go to eat Chinese hotpot or Sichuanese style meat skewers.’
 (conversation)

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Double negation

Geshiza frequently applies double negation that follows the principle *duplex negatio affirmat*, viz. double negations always carry positive semantics, rather than its logical opposite *duplex negatio negat*. It commonly surfaces in a strong necessitative construction. Geshiza forms a permissive construction with the non-argument nominaliser *-rgui* ‘permission’ and the existential verb *də* (see §2.3), as in (58). This in turn is subject to negation, illustrated in (59). Finally, as shown in (60), changing the polarity value of the nominalization results in a strong necessitative, literally ‘there is no permission not to V’. Necessitative parallels to

the Geshiza double negation construction exist in other Asian languages, e.g. the Chinese *bùdé bù* V ‘to have to V’ and the Japanese V-*nakereba naranai* ‘to have to V’.

- (58) <ʈʂʰetsə> mdzə-rgui də-ræ=gæ.
 car change-NMLZ:permission EXVB-SENS=MOD
 ‘Changing the car is allowed!’ (conversation)
- (59) <ʈʂʰetsə> mdzə-rgui ma-ræ=gæ.
 car change-NMLZ:permission NEGEX-SENS=MOD
 ‘Changing the car isn’t allowed!’ (accepted; see 58)
- (60) <ʈʂʰetsə> mi-mdzə-rgui ma-ræ=gæ.
 car NEG-change-NMLZ:permission NEGEX-SENS=MOD
 ‘We really need to change the car!’ (accepted; see 58)

While double negation is commonly attested with such nominalizations, finite verbs also follow the same principle of double negation yielding affirmative semantics (61). This reflects a pattern attested in some Trans-Himalayan languages whereby a negated verb appears together with a negated modal verb with a resulting affirmative meaning.

- (61) ɲa ʌsu=læ mə-tʂʰan tʂʰu ɲa=læ xo ɲɛ
 1SG rear.INF=FOC MOD.NEG-can.NPST.2 SO 1SG=FOC DEM.LOC 1.SG.GEN
 stʰi rə-di-ɕoŋ mə-ɲi-ræ [...]
 place DIR-IRR.NEG-go.NPST.1 MOD.NEG-be.all.right-SENS [...]
 ‘You cannot take care of me, so I really need to go back to my place.’ (lit.
 ‘You cannot take care of me, so if I do not go back to my place, things will
 not be fine.’) (folktale)

4.6.2 Verbs with compulsory negation

The source materials include three Geshiza verb stems that always occur with a negative prefix: *mə-grə* ‘to be unable’, *mə-ske* ‘should not’, *mə-kʰe* ‘to envy’ (meaning of the morpheme *kʰe* remains unclear). These can be interpreted as borderline cases of negative lexicalizations (see §2.5). To illustrate, (62) and (63) show that *mə-ske* ‘should not’ cannot appear without the negative prefix.

- (62) sponqæal sʰæ mə-ske=mə.
 frog kill.INF MOD.NEG-should=MOD
 ‘One should not kill frogs.’ (conversation)

- (63) * sponqæal s^hæ ske=mɔ.
 frog kill.INF should=MOD
 Intended meaning: ‘One should kill frogs.’ (rejected during elicitation;
 see 62)

4.6.3 Disagreement and self-repair

The pragmatic functions of expressing disagreement and repairing one’s utterance during conversation are achieved by means of the negative copula *mja* ~ *mja*. In (64), the husband in an elderly couple is narrating a folktale. His wife interrupts him, since she disagrees with her husband concerning the correct plot of the folktale.

- (64) A: ts^honpən=ke oja ji rji də-ɲuə-s^hi tɕ^hu xaræ
 merchant=DAT INJ 2SG.GEN horse PFV-COP.3-INFR SO CONJ
 k^huæn=bɔ. də-v-tɕ^hi=ræ də-ɕ^hə-s^hə-mə-ræ.
 give.NPST.2=MOD PFV-INV-ride.PST.3=LNK PFV-go.PST.3-INFR-EP-SENS
 ‘He (*A khu ston pa*) said to the merchant: “Yes, it is your horse, so I
 will give it (back) to you,” and he rode the horse, going away.’
 B: mja. rə-ʒe-s^hə-mə-ræ.
 NEG.COP.3 PFV.DIR-come.3-EP-EP-SENS
 ‘No. He came back (to the merchant).’ (folktale mixed with
 conversation)

In a closely related fashion, the negative copula *mja* ~ *mja* carries the pragmatic function of self repair when speakers change their minds, modify, or even negate their previous statement. In (65), the speaker suddenly realizes his mistake in identifying a person as a lama, immediately followed by the negative copula and self-repair.

- (65) t^ho næmk^hæ jə-me æ-lə də-dʒi-s^hi, læma.
 DEM.LOC PN say-NMLZ one-CLF.INDF PFV-EXVB.3-SENS lama
 mja. læma=t^hə mja-ræ=bɔ.
 NEG.COP.3 lama=TOP NEG.COP.3=MOD
 ‘There was a certain person called *Næmk^hæ*, a lama, there. No. He is not a
 lama.’ (personal history)

5 Conclusion

This chapter introduced the principal morphology and constructions pertaining to negation in Geshiza. The findings concerning negative morphology and negative verbs are summarized in Table 4 below.

Table 4: Negative morphology in Geshiza

Domain	Type	Form	Description
verbal	<i>mi-</i>	prefix	aspectually neutral standard negator
verbal	<i>mε-</i>	prefix	aspectual standard negator
verbal	<i>mə-</i>	prefix	unproductive aspectually neutral negator
verbal	<i>di- ~ dʒi-</i>	prefix	irrealis negator
existential	<i>ma</i>	verb	negative inanimate existential verb
copular	<i>mɲa ~ mja</i>	verb	negative copula
nominal	<i>mi-, mə-</i>	prefix	verbal negators present in nominalizations
adjectival	<i>mi-, mə-</i>	prefix	verbal negators present in adjectivalizations

Negation in Geshiza strictly pertains to the domain of verbs, which means that nouns and adjectives are only subject to negation when they derive from verbs and have already been negated in that word class prior to derivation. The language deviates from other described Gyalrongic languages in terms how aspect and negation interact. Geshiza includes an unproductive negator *mə-* that is used for modal verbs and several other verbs denoting non-controllable action. Additionally, the language includes a dedicated negative prefix *di- ~ dʒi-* for irrealis scenarios, such as the prohibitive.

Abbreviations

The glossing of examples uses abbreviations from the Leipzig Glossing rules. New abbreviations for categories not included in the rules have been adopted. In all, the abbreviations used are listed below. To ease their identification, recent Chinese loanwords are placed inside angle brackets: <loanword>. Omissions are indicated with [...].

1	first person		
2	second person	INV	inverse
3	third person	IPFV	imperfective
ADJZ	adjectivizer	IRR	irrealis
ADV	adverb	LNK	linker
ASP	aspectual	LOC	locative
AUX	auxiliary	MOD	modal
CNTR	contrastive	NACTL	nonactual, realis mood
CAUS	causative	NEG	negation
CLF	classifier	NEGEX	negative existential
COND	conditional	NMLZ	nominalizer
CONJ	conjunction	NPST	non-past
COP	copula	OPT	optative
DAT	dative	PERF	perfect
DEM	demonstrative	PFV	perfective
DIR	direction, orientation	PL	plural
DM	discourse marker	PN	personal name
EP	epistemic suffix	PFX	multifunctional verbal prefix
ERG	ergative	PROSP	prospective
EXP	experiential	PST	past
EXVB	existential verb	Q	interrogative
FOC	focus	RED	reduplication
GEN	genitive	REP	reportative
INFR	inferential	SENS	sensory
IMP	imperative	SG	singular
INDF	indefinite	TOP	topic
INF	infinitive	TOPN	toponym
INJ	interjection		

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Negation in Rumai Palaung

Rachel Weymuth

In Rumai, a variety of Palaung (Palaungic, Austroasiatic), negation is dependent on the clause type. While the negative morphemes *ʔa:w-* ‘NEG’, *bu:-* ‘NEG’, *-maʔ* ‘NEG’ and *ɲjɬam* ‘not yet’ can be used in independent clauses, dependent clauses are restricted to *bu:-* and *ɲjɬam*. This is probably due to the constituent order change from VAP to AVP in the Rumai independent clauses. Additionally, there are the prohibitives *k^hu:-* and *maj-*. The aim of this chapter is to describe and to analyze the means of negation in Rumai. It follows the “Questionnaire for describing the negation system of a language” by [Miestamo \(2025\)](#).

Keywords: Austroasiatic, Palaung, Rumai, negation, Jespersen Cycle.

1 Introduction

Rumai Palaung (ISO: [rbb](#), Glottocode: [ruma1248](#)), an Austroasiatic language of the western Palaungic branch, is one of three varieties of Palaung (Ta’ang) so far mentioned in the linguistic literature, the other two being Shwe Palaung and Ruching Palaung. The three varieties (called in the following simply Rumai, Shwe and Ruching) differ to a considerable extent in the grammatical morphemes, and somewhat less in the lexicon.

Rumai, with a population of approximately 140 000, is mainly spoken in Myanmar in the townships Nam Hkam and Man Ton in Northern Shan State and Mogok in Mandalay Region, but also in adjacent regions of the Chinese province Yunnan. For a long time, Shan (Tai-Kadai) has been the main contact language, but with the introduction of the public school system after the independence of Myanmar in 1948, Burmese (Tibeto-Burman) gained more influence. This means, today the sociolinguistic hierarchy in the region is Burmese > Shan > Rumai. In Northern Shan State, the Rumai live in villages scattered over ridges and slopes of the mountains. The Rumai speakers in the villages of the same valley have

relatively easy contact to each other, but this is not the case for villages of different valleys. This results in several dialects, which slightly diverge in phonology, lexicon, and syntax. The present study is based on fieldwork by the author mainly conducted in Mandalay, between 2013 and 2020, with consultants from Nam Hkam and Man Ton townships, in a village in Nam Hkam township and in Lashio, the informal capital of Northern Shan State. The corpus includes elicited sentences from several questionnaires, interviews, conversations, picture stories, and published texts from a phrasebook, journals, and a booklet with short stories. The references to the sources are explained in the appendix at the end of the chapter.

The Palaung have their own script, which was invented in 1972 by the Ta'ang Literature and Culture Committee and in 2012, a dictionary Burmese-Shwe-Rumai-Ruching appeared. There is also a dictionary Rumai-English-Burmese from 2011. The script is based on Burmese script with some additions from Shan script. However, as teaching (and even speaking) of ethnic languages in public schools was forbidden for a long time, literacy in Palaung is still low and a real standardization of the script has not taken place. Moreover, Ruching communities in Southern Shan State use Khün script, a script which is mainly used for Tai languages in this region.

Rumai constituent order is mainly SV/AVP in main clauses while dependent clauses have predominantly VS/VAP order. Multi-verbal predicates are common, and although the language is mainly analytic, there are verbal affixes expressing aspect, modality, and negation. The multi-verbal predicates include preverbal and postverbal secondary verbs expressing several grammatical categories which partly coincide with the functions of the verbal prefixes.¹

2 Clausal negation

The way clausal negation is expressed in Rumai is partly connected to constituent order. Negation is predominantly preverbal, but there is also the postverbal negator *-maʔ*, which occurs only in independent declarative (SV/AVP) clauses. This conforms to the findings of [Dryer \(1988: 97\)](#) that postverbal negation in verb initial languages is highly unusual. It was originally a reinforcement of negation, but today it also occurs as the sole negator of a verb.²

¹For the affixes and secondary verbs in Rumai see [Weymuth 2018](#) and [2023](#).

²See §4.6.2 for Jespersen Cycle.

2.1 Standard negation

The negators used in Rumai standard negation are the prefixes *ʔa:w-* and *bu:-*, the suffix *-maʔ*, and the preverbal negative particle *ɲʌm* ‘not yet’. *ɲʌm* is not an affix like the other negators, but a free morpheme as it can be used alone in the negative answer to a polar question (§3.1).³ *ʔa:w-* and *-maʔ* only occur in independent clauses while *bu:-* and *ɲʌm* are also used in dependent ones.

In independent clauses, the preverbal affixes usually occur together with the suffix *-maʔ* (1b⁴, 3b), but there are also examples where the prefixes are the only negator (2b⁵, 4b).

- (1) a. pi ʔʌw təkjeət pʌʔ sɔŋfāj
 elder.sibling 1SG tidy.up LOC kitchen
 ‘My sister cleans up in the kitchen.’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_115)
- b. pi ʔʌw ʔa:w-təkjeət-maʔ pʌʔ sɔŋfāj
 elder.sibling 1SG NEG-tidy.up-NEG LOC kitchen
 ‘My sister does not clean up in the kitchen.’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_117)
- (2) a. ʔʌw jêəw təpâ:w pʌŋ dʌh māj
 1SG see listen REL say 2SG
 ‘I hear what you say.’ (pc_3)
- b. ʔʌw ʔa:w-jêəw təpâ:w pʌŋ dʌh māj
 1SG NEG-see listen REL say 2SG
 ‘I don’t hear what you say.’ (EQB_17_M_3_023)

bu:- is the main negator in dependent clauses (§2.4), but it is also used in independent ones (3) and (4).

- (3) a. pa:t bʌ:n ʔʌw hâ:w jangû:n
 week back 1SG go Yangon
 ‘Next week I will go to Yangon.’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_040)
- b. pa:t bʌ:n ʔʌw bu:-hâ:w-maʔ jangû:n
 week back 1SG NEG-go-NEG Yangon
 ‘Next week I will not go to Yangon.’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_041)

³Due to the lack of data, *ɲʌm* was analyzed as a prefix in Weymuth (2018).

⁴The transcription *eə* in words like *təkjeət* ‘tidy up’ in example (1) does not represent a diphthong in Rumai, but a vowel between /e/ and /ɛ/.

⁵In the paper about secondary verbs in Rumai (Weymuth 2023), *pʌŋ* is glossed as a nominalizer. However, to analyze *pʌŋ* as a relativizer is more compatible with the structure of the language.

- (4) a. ʔê nà ʔu kê dih
 1PL.INCL know name 3PL DISC
 ‘We know their names.’ (pc_3)
 b. ʔê bu:-nà ʔu kê dih
 1PL.INCL NEG-know name 3PL DISC
 ‘We don’t know their names.’ (C3_17_MS_9_107)

Besides its function as a neutral negation marker in independent clauses, *bu:-*, in contrary to *ʔa:w-*, may also mean ‘no longer, no more, not anymore’, dependent on the context or the intention of the speaker. Here, the negative suffix *-maʔ* is always present (5).

- (5) ʔân bu:-deəh-maʔ dih
 3SG NEG-come-NEG DISC
 ‘He won’t come anymore.’ (EQB_17_M_3_006)

ʔa:w- and *bu:-* (as a neutral negation marker) are sometimes freely interchangeable. However, dependent on the intention of the speaker, there may also be the connotation of ‘not anymore, no longer’ in (6b), but not in (6a).

- (6) a. māj ʔa:w-bŷn-maʔ ʔak
 2SG NEG-get-NEG sit
 ‘You may not sit here.’ (EGGD_16_L_6_142)
 b. māj bu:-bŷn-maʔ ʔak
 2SG NEG-get-NEG sit
 ‘You may not sit here (anymore).’ (EGGD_16_M_1_141)

The suffix *-maʔ*, in combination with the negative prefixes, probably originally had a reinforcing function, but today it is very frequent in negative declarative clauses, so that it is now rather a neutral negation marker. Sometimes it also occurs as the sole negator in a clause (7b).⁶

- (7) a. ʔâw hâ:w pʔ ʔangû:n
 1SG go LOC Yangon
 ‘I go to Yangon.’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_034)
 b. ʔâw hâ:w-maʔ pʔ ʔangû:n
 1SG go-NEG LOC Yangon
 ‘I don’t go to Yangon.’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_035)

⁶See §4.6.2 for Jespersen Cycle.

The three Palaung varieties have a common preverbal negative marker with the meaning ‘not yet’, namely Rumai *ɲjɔm*, Shwe *hɲem* (Milne 1921: 176) and Ruching *hɲam* (Deepadung et al. 2015:1078). In the Burmese-Palaung dictionary (Unknown 2012: 131), the Shwe and the Ruching expressions are cited as verbs with the meaning ‘dilatory, stiff’ (the corresponding Rumai verb in the dictionary is *moj*). This suggests that a former common verb of the three Palaung varieties is the source of the Rumai negation marker *ɲjɔm*. Clauses containing the prefix *hɔj-* ‘NSIT’ (8a, 9b), the secondary verb *hɔj* ‘finish’ (9a), or both (10a) are usually negated by *ɲjɔm*.⁷

HC: @LSP is it ok to have glosses in quotation marks in text?

The prefix and the secondary verb are aspectual markers which denote a new (and usually expected) situation after the transgression of a limit (Jenny 2001: 125). Both may be translated by ‘already’ (8a, 10a), but they do not have to be translated at all (9). In negative clauses, they are always omitted.

Furthermore, as illustrated in the following negative clauses, *ɲjɔm* is always used together with the negative suffix *-maʔ* in declarative verbal main clauses.

- (8) a. ʔân *hɔj-tʰiʷ* cəʔuʔ
 3SG NSIT-give book
 ‘He has already given back the book.’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_019)
- b. ʔân *ɲjɔm tʰiʷ-maʔ* cəʔuʔ
 3SG not.yet give-NEG book
 ‘He has not yet given back the book.’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_020)

The secondary verb *hɔj* (9a) and the prefix *hɔj-* (9b) are freely interchangeable, the negated clause (9c) is the same for both (9a) and (9b).

- (9) a. ʔâw ʃɰh *hɔj*
 1SG buy finish
 ‘I have bought it.’ (pc_3)
- b. ʔâw *hɔj-ʃɰh*
 1SG NSIT-buy
 ‘I have bought it.’ (pc_3)
- c. ʔâw *ɲjɔm ʃɰh-maʔ*
 1SG not.yet buy-NEG
 ‘I haven’t bought it yet.’ (pc_3)

⁷For more details about the verbal affixes see Weymuth (2018), and for the secondary verbs see Weymuth (2023).

In (10a), the prefix as well as the secondary verb are used while in the negative clause (10b) both are omitted. When both grammatical markers are used in a positive clause, one probably emphasizes the other, but it is not yet clear which is the emphasizing one.

- (10) a. ʔâw hɔj-ʔɤh hɔ:j tɛw.hlâ
 1SG NSIT-buy finish vegetable
 ‘I have already bought vegetables.’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_059)
- b. ʔâw ɲjam ʔɤh-maʔ tɛw.hlâ
 1SG not.yet buy-NEG vegetable
 ‘I have not yet bought vegetables.’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_060)

The replacement of the new situation markers by the negator *ɲjam* ‘not yet’ indicates a constructional asymmetry (Miestamo 2005: 52). And as the asymmetry concerns a grammatical category of the aspectual domain, it belongs to Miestamo’s asymmetry type A/Cat/TAM⁸ (Miestamo 2005: 116).

In Rumai, the lexical verbs in a clause belong to one of two functional categories: semantically primary verbs (main verbs) or semantic secondary verbs (secondary verbs). The secondary verbs (V2) can be divided into two sub-categories, namely preverbal and postverbal secondary verbs. The preverbal secondary verbs are always the syntactic primary verbs that means, they take the verbal affixes and the postverbal secondary verbs. The postverbal secondary verbs never have syntactic priority. In Table 1, the possible combinations of main verbs and secondary verbs are given.

Table 1: Semantic and syntactic priority of the Rumai lexical verbs

	preverbal V2	+	main verb	main verb	(+ postverbal V2)
semantic priority	–		+	+	–
syntactic priority	+		–	+	–

This categorization is important for negation because it is always the syntactic primary verb in a clause which takes the negation markers (as well as the other verbal prefixes and the postverbal secondary verbs) and is therefore in the scope of negation. As it is shown in Table 1, in absence of a preverbal secondary verb, the syntactic primary verb is the main verb, otherwise it is the preverbal

⁸Asymmetry that affects the grammatical categories tense, aspect and/or mood.

secondary verb. The most common preverbal secondary verbs are listed in Table 2.⁹

Table 2: The most common preverbal secondary verbs in Rumai

Verb	Lexical meaning	Function	Domain
<i>lo</i>	‘need’	obligation	modality
<i>bɛ</i>	‘can’	possibility, inherent ability	modality
<i>səmâ</i>	‘know’	acquired ability	modality
<i>bɿn</i>	‘get’	possibility, permission	modality
<i>dɛh / tʰɪw</i>	‘give’	causative	valency

Examples (11–15) show that the means of negation with preverbal secondary verbs are the same as with main verbs.

- (11) a. *pi jê lo rêən sɔ:ŋfâj*
 elder.sibling 1PL.EXCL need do kitchen
 ‘Our elder sister has to clean the kitchen.’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_114)
- b. *pi jê ʔa:w-lo rêən sɔ:ŋfâj*
 elder.sibling 1PL.EXCL NEG-need do kitchen
 ‘Our elder sister does not have to clean the kitchen.’
 (ENEG_13_M_1/2_116)
- (12) *ma ʔaw bu:-lo-ma? rêən ʃuŋ kjâ:m*
 mother 1SG NEG-need-NEG do work rough
 ‘My mother doesn’t have to do rough work anymore.’ (WA_15_M_3_038)
- (13) *kê ɲjam bɛ-ma? lɔ? vɿh dih*
 3PL not.yet can-NEG COMP open DISC
 ‘They cannot yet open (school).’ (C3_17_MS_9_022)
- (14) *mâj ʔa:w-bɿn-ma? dɛəh hla pɔ? ʃuŋ*
 2SG NEG-get-NEG come late LOC work
 ‘You shouldn’t come late to work.’ (WPKT_14_L_097)

⁹The analysis of Rumai is a work in progress, and there may be more marginally used preverbal secondary verbs. The same holds for the postverbal secondary verbs and the verbal affixes.

- (15) ma ʔâw siŋ-**dêh-maʔ** kô:n ʔân hâ:w pɔʔ rangun
 mother 1SG DES-give-NEG child 3SG go LOC Yangon
 ‘My mother does not want to let her children go to Yangon.’
 (EMR_19_M_3_090)

Except for the negative constructions with *njɔm* (A/Cat/TAM), the examples so far given suggest that negation in declarative verbal main clauses is symmetric. However, there is a certain paradigmatic asymmetry (Miestamo 2005: 52) regarding some verbal prefixes and postverbal secondary verbs. These grammatical markers are not generally incompatible with negation, but they are often omitted in negative clauses. Although Miestamo (2005: 58) includes only fully grammaticalized, obligatory asymmetries in his study, this partial asymmetry is mentioned here as the tendency to omit certain grammatical markers is very strong. Like the asymmetry with *njɔm*, this asymmetry can be classified as type A/Cat/TAM. Of the verbal affixes, the imperfective marker *gi:j-* and the irrealis marker *nɔŋ-* are most often affected. The feature is shown in example (16).

- (16) a. ʔân dih cəʔuʔ
 3SG read book
 ‘He reads a book.’
 b. ʔân **nɔŋ**-dih cəʔuʔ
 3SG IRR-read book
 ‘He will read a book.’
 c. ʔân **gi:j**-dih cəʔuʔ
 3SG IPFV-read book
 ‘He is reading a book.’
 d. ʔân (**ʔa:w-**)dih-**maʔ** cəʔuʔ
 3SG NEG-read-NEG book
 ‘He doesn’t/will not read/isn’t reading a book.’ (pc_3)

While in the affirmative clauses (16b, 16c) the affixes are used to indicate modality and aspect, the negative clause (16d) is underspecified and may therefore be read in different ways. However, when the function of the prefix is emphasized, it is also maintained under negation (17).

- (17) a. ʔân **gi:j**-dih cəʔuʔ dɿ
 3SG IPFV-read book ANA
 ‘She is still reading that book.’

- b. ʔân ʔa:w-gi:j-dih-maʔ cəʔuʔ dɿ
 3SG NEG-IPFV-read-NEG book ANA
 ‘She is still not reading that book.’ (pc_3)

Of the post-verbal secondary verbs, ʔû:n ‘keep’ is the one that is most often omitted in negative clauses. The basic function of this aspectual marker is to express duration without emphasizing initial or final boundaries, although they may be present implicitly. This includes ongoing actions or situations, but also general truths. Especially the general truths convey certainty of the situation or event, and therefore the durative marker may additionally have developed into an emphasis marker which conveys more certainty. This is probably the case in (18a). In the negative clause (18b), the secondary verb is omitted, but the negative suffix *-maʔ* is used which, in combination with the preverbal negative marker *ʔa:w-* may have an emphasizing function. As there are only a few examples of this pattern in the data, it is not clear at this point whether the correspondence is regular.

- (18) a. ʔân jêəw ʔû:n baw.pʰuŋ ʔân
 3SG see keep friend 3SG
 ‘He has (definitely) met his friend.’ (ENEG_14_M_028)
 b. ʔân ʔa:w-jêəw-maʔ baw.pʰuŋ ʔân
 3SG NEG-see-NEG friend 3SG
 ‘He did not meet his friend.’ (ENEG_14_M_029)

Other secondary verbs like *deəh* ‘come’ are usually retained in negative clauses (19). The function of *deəh* is to express a motion towards the center of interest (Jenny 2005: 173).

- (19) səŋaj tənɪŋla pa:t bân mɔ kê ɲjam vî deəh-maʔ
 sun Monday week back RESTR 3PL not.yet return come-NEG
 ‘By next Monday they won’t have returned yet.’ (EGGD_16_M_3_158)

Some pronouns merge with the negative prefix *ʔa:w-*, like ʔêw- ‘1PL.INCL.NEG’ (20) from ʔê ‘1PL.INCL’ and *kêw-* ‘3PL.NEG’ (21) from *kê* ‘3PL’.

- (20) ʔêw-nɔ ɲaŋ ɲaŋ-rêən tɛ hɔm
 1PL.INCL.NEG-know REL IRR-do begin eat
 ‘We don’t know what we should do for eating.’ (N2_17_MS_7_012)

- (21) kê nî mΛ kêw-meəh-ma? lΛ? jλ:j rêən hōm si? pΛŋ
3PL PROX RESTR 3PL.NEG-exist-NEG COMP rise do eat something REL
hâj
other
'They don't have to do something else for living.' (N2_17_MS_7_007)

These are the only two mergers between a pronoun and *ʔa:w-* that occur in the corpus. Table 3 contains the personal pronouns of Rumai.

Table 3: The Rumai personal pronouns

		Singular	Dual	Plural
1	Inclusive	<i>ʔâw</i>	<i>ʔâ:j</i>	<i>ʔê</i>
	Exclusive		<i>jâ:j</i>	<i>jê</i>
2		<i>mâj</i>	<i>pâ:j</i>	<i>pê</i>
3		<i>ʔân</i>	<i>kâ:j</i>	<i>kê</i>

The phonological shape of the pronouns seems to be a factor in whether merger occurs. While a merger with pronouns ending in a vowel is possible, due to phonotactics it is unlikely with those ending in a consonant.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Non-declaratives in Rumai are imperative and interrogative clauses. Both have several means of expressing negation, which will be described in the following sections.

2.2.1 Imperative clauses

Imperative clauses in Rumai are usually negated by the prohibitive marker *k^hu:-* (22).

- (22) a. hâ:w pΛ? kəlah
go LOC market
'Go to the market!' (ENEG_13_M_1/2_249)
b. k^hu:-hâ:w pΛ? kəlah
PROH-go LOC market
'Don't go to the market!' (ENEG_13_M_1/2_234)

Sometimes the prohibitive marker *maj-* is used. This seems to be only possible if a corresponding positive imperative does not make sense like in (23). So, it may rather express a well-meaning advice.

- (23) *maj-bī* *teəh cə:ŋ*
 PROH-forget take umbrella
 ‘Don’t forget to take an umbrella!’ (WPKT_14_L_194)

So far negation of imperatives is symmetric, but there are two features which can trigger an asymmetry. On the one hand, the second person pronoun may be used in prohibitive clauses for emphasis like *mâj* ‘2SG’ in (24). According to the data, this seems impossible in positive imperatives.

- (24) *paŋtâ:j ciʔ dɿh mâj kʰu:-leəp*
 rabbit TCL say 2SG PROH-enter
 ‘The rabbit said: “Don’t enter!”’ (PCHT_16_L_6_035)

On the other hand, for more politeness, the polite marker *kʰɿŋ* can be used in positive imperatives (25). This is not possible in negative ones (26).

- (25) *vɿh kʰɿŋ mòj ploɰ dī*
 open POL mouth door MED
 ‘Please open the door!’ (WPKT_14_L_148)
- (26) *kʰu:-vɿh (*kʰɿŋ) mòj ploɰ dī*
 PROH-open POL mouth door MED
 ‘Don’t open the door!’ (pc_3)

In their analysis of the prohibitive, *van der Auwera et al. (2013)* propose a four-way distinction which pays attention to the similarity between the verbal constructions of the prohibitive and the imperative, and to the similarity between the negative strategy used for prohibitives and for declaratives.

2.2.2 Interrogative clauses

Rumai interrogative clauses include polar questions and content questions. The negators which are used in standard negation are also used in negative interrogatives.

The polar questions mostly contain an interrogative particle, which is *lɿh* in positive questions (27a, 28a), while *huh* is usually used in negative ones (27b,

(28b). All the interrogative particles directly follow the verb complex. In example (27b), the negator *maʔ* is used, and in (28b) it is *ʔa:w-*. This choice is probably due to the intention of the speakers.

- (27) a. *mâj hâ:w lah pʔ ʃũŋ*
 2SG go Q LOC work
 ‘Do you go to work?’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_235)
- b. *mâj hâ:w-maʔ huɰh pʔ ʃũŋ*
 2SG go-NEG Q LOC work
 ‘Don’t you go to work?’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_238)
- (28) a. *mâj dih lah bèəh tō:n səŋâj*
 2SG read Q text every sun
 ‘Do you read the newspaper every day?’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_245)
- b. *mâj ʔa:w-dih huɰh bèəh tō:n səŋâj*
 2SG NEG-read Q text every sun
 ‘Don’t you read the newspaper every day?’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_246)

Neither the positive nor the negative question in (29) contain a question marker, and the clauses are identical to the corresponding declarative clauses. Here, only the intonation allows the hearer to distinguish between the clause types. In declarative clauses and in questions including a question particle the intonation is falling towards the end; in interrogative clauses without a question marker, it is rising. Example (29b) contains the common negative markers *bu:-* and *-maʔ* to express the meaning ‘not anymore’.

- (29) a. *ʔân nʌŋ-hâ:w tʰéŋ bō pʔ rangũŋ*
 3SG IRR-go repeat fill LOC Yangon
 ‘He will go to Yangon again.’
 ‘Will he go to Yangon again?’
- b. *ʔân nʌŋ-bu:-hâ:w tʰéŋ-maʔ pʔ rangũŋ*
 3SG IRR-NEG-go repeat-NEG LOC Yangon
 ‘He won’t go to Yangon anymore.’
 ‘Won’t he go to Yangon anymore?’ (pc_3)

Additionally, the particle *hʌʔ* can be used as a question marker. Example (30) shows an affirmative clause that includes the secondary verb *hò:j*, which is usually translated as ‘already’.

- (30) ʔân ʃɤh hò:j kâ
 3SG buy finish car
 ‘He already bought the car.’ (pc_3)

In the corresponding question (31), the secondary verb *hò:j* is replaced by the particle *hʌʔ*, but it can also be maintained to emphasize the meaning ‘already’ (31a). In the negative question (31b), *ɲjʌm* ‘not yet’ replaces *hò:j*, and *jêw* ‘perceive’, a secondary verb with a function that is not yet clear, follows the main verb.

- (31) a. ʔân ʃɤh (hò:j) hʌʔ kâ
 3SG buy finish PTCL car
 ‘Did he already buy the car?’
 b. ʔân ɲjʌm ʃɤh jêw kâ
 3SG not.yet buy perceive car
 ‘Hasn’t he bought the car yet?’ (pc_3)

According to native speakers, *hʌʔ* means ‘to stop’ or ‘be all’. This and the form of the particle are hints that *hʌʔ* may be derived from the verb *hò:j* ‘finish’. However, the postverbal position of *hʌʔ* in interrogative clauses implies a derivation from the postverbal secondary verb *hò:j*. This would be unusual as *hʌʔ* is an independent morpheme while *hò:j* in this function is not.

There do not seem to be any means to express an expectation for a positive or negative answer in polar questions.

Content questions can be expressed with (32, 33b) or without (33a, 34) interrogative particles.

- (32) a. sim.ba:j mâj sʌm gi:j-dih lʌh bèə
 why 2SG CONC IPFV-read Q text
 ‘Why are you reading?’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_208)
 b. sim.ba:j mâj sʌm bu:-dih lʌh bèə
 why 2SG CONC NEG-read Q text
 ‘Why are you not reading?’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_209)
- (33) a. cʰi gô:j deəh pʌʔ dī
 who stay come LOC MED
 ‘Who was there?’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_222)
 b. cʰi ʔa:w-gô:j deəh huɰh pʌʔ dī
 who NEG-stay come Q LOC MED
 ‘Who was not there?’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_223)

- (34) a. si mâj ʃyh deəh
 what 2SG buy come
 ‘What did you buy?’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_219)
- b. si mâj bu:-ʃyh deəh
 what 2SG NEG-buy come
 ‘What did you not buy?’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_220)

Negative questions introduced by *sim.baj* ‘why’ (32b) are always negated by the prefix *bu:-* and the question particle *lah* follows the verb instead of *huh*, which is usually used in negative questions. The use of *bu:-* here and in (34b) may be due to a possible reading as ‘not anymore’ while in (33b) this is less plausible. However, the use of the negative markers is flexible and different consultants may give different translations of the sentences.

The examples in this section show that negation in questions is usually asymmetric, only (34b) is symmetric. But here also, translations given by other consultants may differ.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

In Rumai, stative predications are verbal, and negation is expressed by standard negation. This means, that the usual negation strategies are used. These are *ʔa:w-V-ma?* ‘not’, *ɲjam V-ma?* ‘not yet’ and *bu:-V-ma?* ‘not anymore’. The type of negation that seems impossible is negation by a simple preverbal or postverbal negator.

Negation in stative predications is symmetric unless aspectual markers are involved. While clauses expressing “already” include the prefix *hɔj-* ‘NSIT’ and/or the postverbal secondary verb *hɔj* ‘finish’, these aspectual markers are substituted by *ɲjam* ‘not.yet’ in the corresponding negative clauses, as illustrated for *hɔj* in (36d). Other aspectual markers like *gi:j-* ‘IPFV’ are mostly omitted in negative clauses (36f, 38e). For *ʔuN-* ‘DUR’ see §2.3.5.

2.3.1 Equation

Equation uses the verb *moh* ‘be so’ that is negated regularly (35).¹⁰

¹⁰The Rumai verbs are so far divided into primary and secondary verbs dependent on their function in a clause (§2.1, Table 1). Whether *moh* ‘be so’ can be assigned to one of these categories, or whether it is appropriate to introduce an additional category like “auxiliary”, or “copula” is not yet clear. The research for the syntactic constructions in which *moh* is used will give more insight.

- (35) a. ʔân moh ma ʔâw
 3SG be.so mother 1SG
 ‘She is my mother.’
 b. ʔân ʔa:w-moh-maʔ ma ʔâw
 3SG NEG-be.so-NEG mother 1SG
 ‘She is not my mother.’ (pc_3)

2.3.2 Proper inclusion

Also, in proper inclusion, the verb *moh* is used and is negated regularly as shown in (36).

- (36) a. ʔân moh kəŋjâ nâ
 3SG be.so owner field
 ‘He is a farmer.’
 b. ʔân ʔa:w-moh-maʔ kəŋjâ nâ
 3SG NEG-be.so-NEG owner field
 ‘He isn’t a farmer.’
 c. ʔân moh hò:j kəŋjâ nâ
 3SG be.so finish owner field
 ‘He is already a farmer.’
 d. ʔân ɲʌm moh-maʔ kəŋjâ nâ
 3SG not.yet be.so-NEG owner field
 ‘He is not yet a farmer.’
 e. ʔân gi:j-moh kəŋjâ nâ
 3SG IPFV-be.so owner field
 ‘He is still a farmer.’
 f. ʔân bu:-moh-maʔ kəŋjâ nâ
 3SG NEG-be.so-NEG owner field
 ‘He isn’t a farmer anymore.’ (pc_3)

In proper inclusion, sentences with a generic subject (37) do not differ from sentences with specific subjects (36).

- (37) a. ʔəpɛw moh to.sət
 cat be.so animal
 ‘Cats are animals.’

- b. ʔəpɛw ʔa:w-moh-maʔ to.sət
cat NEG-be.SO-NEG animal
'Cats are not animals.' (pc_3)

2.3.3 Attribution

Attribution is expressed by stative verbs (38) that behave like intransitive active verbs (39). This means, they directly follow the subject and are within the scope of negation. Here also, the regular means of negation are used.

- (38) a. ʔân pjɔ
3SG happy
'She is happy.'
- b. ʔân ʔa:w-pjɔ-maʔ
3SG NEG-happy-NEG
'She is not happy.'
- c. ʔân ɲjam pjɔ-maʔ
3SG not.yet happy-NEG
'She isn't happy yet.'
- d. ʔân gi:j-pjɔ
3SG IPFV-happy
'She is still happy.'
- e. ʔân bu:-pjɔ-maʔ
3SG NEG-happy-NEG
'She isn't happy anymore.' (pc_3)
- (39) a. ʔân kəɲjah
3SG laugh
'He laughs.'
- b. ʔân ʔa:w-kəɲjah-maʔ
3SG NEG-laugh-NEG
'He doesn't laugh.'
- c. ʔân ɲjam kəɲjah-maʔ
3SG not.yet laugh-NEG
'He doesn't laugh yet.'
- d. ʔân bu:-kəɲjah-maʔ
3SG NEG-laugh-NEG
'He doesn't laugh anymore.' (pc_3)

There is no difference in negation between temporary (38) and permanent (40) property assignment.

- (40) a. k^həleəp nî dâ:ŋ
house PROX big
'This house is big.' (ENEG_13_M_1/2_188)
- b. k^həleəp nî ʔa:w-dâ:ŋ-maʔ
house PROX NEG-big-NEG
'This house is not big.' (ENEG_13_M_1/2_189)

2.3.4 Locative predication

Locative predication is expressed by the verb *gô:j* 'stay' (41) which also means 'live' (42). Negation is regular.

- (41) a. ʔəpɛw gô:j tēəŋ ku:.ʔiʔ
cat stay on bed
'The cat is on the bed.'
- b. ʔəpɛw ʔa:w-gô:j-maʔ tēəŋ ku:.ʔiʔ
cat NEG-stay-NEG on bed
'The cat is not on the bed.'
- c. ʔəpɛw ɲɿɿm gô:j-maʔ tēəŋ ku:.ʔiʔ
cat not.yet stay-NEG on bed
'The cat isn't on the bed yet.'
- d. ʔəpɛw bu:-gô:j-maʔ tēəŋ ku:.ʔiʔ
cat NEG-stay-NEG on bed
'The cat isn't on the bed anymore.' (pc_3)
- (42) ʔɿw gô:j pɿʔ ʔuɿ.ʃuh p^hədən
1SG stay LOC village PN
'I live in Pha Den village.' (WPKT_14_L_008)

2.3.5 Existential predication

For existential predications, the verb *meəh* 'exist' is used (43). Existential clauses are always verb initial. For locative-presentative constructions (Veselinova 2013: 108), a locative adverbial can be added to the existential clause without any other changes. Existential predications show asymmetry. This is due to the durative

prefix *ʔuN-*, which describes a situation in which the boundaries are not known or are not of any importance. The negative clauses (43b) and (43d) both show this feature, but only in (43d) is *ʔuN-* used. The reason for its presence in this clause is not yet clear, and more research is needed. In (43c), there is a boundary as *ɲʌm* ‘not.yet’ also means “not until now”.

- (43) a. (k^hêəŋ bjâj) **ʔuɪm**-mēəh sâ:ŋ
in forest DUR-exist elephant
‘There are elephants (in the forest).’
b. (k^hêəŋ bjâj) **ʔa:w**-mēəh-**maʔ** sâ:ŋ
in forest NEG-exist-NEG elephant
‘There are no elephants (in the forest).’
c. (k^hêəŋ bjâj) **ɲʌm** mēəh-**maʔ** sâ:ŋ
in forest not.yet exist-NEG elephant
‘There aren’t elephants (in the forest) yet.’
d. (k^hêəŋ bjâj) **ʔuɪm-bu:**-mēəh-**maʔ** sâ:ŋ
in forest DUR-NEG-exist-NEG elephant
‘There aren’t elephants (in the forest) anymore.’ (pc_3)

2.3.6 Possessive predication

The verb *mēəh* ‘exist’ also has the sense ‘have’ in Rumai and is therefore used in possessive predication (44). Negation is regular.

- (44) a. ʔân mēəh k^həleəp
3SG exist house
‘He has a house.’
b. ʔân **ʔa:w**-mēəh-**maʔ** k^həleəp
3SG NEG-exist-NEG house
‘He doesn’t have a house.’
c. ʔân **ɲʌm** mēəh-**maʔ** k^həleəp
3SG not.yet exist-NEG house
‘He doesn’t have a house yet.’
d. ʔân **bu:**-mēəh-**maʔ** k^həleəp
3SG NEG-exist-NEG house
‘He doesn’t have a house anymore.’ (pc_3)

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Rumai dependent clauses are mainly verb-initial, and they are always negated by *bu:-* ‘NEG’ or *njɔm* ‘not yet’. This means that the negators *ʔa:w-* and *-maʔ* are never used in dependent clauses. Concerning the postverbal *-maʔ*, its absence in dependent clauses is probably due to the tendency to avoid postverbal negators in verb-initial languages as observed by Dryer (1988) in his study about negative position (Dryer 1988: 97). Although the basic word order in Rumai is verb-medial today, one can assume that it was generally verb-initial as dependent clauses are believed to be more conservative than independent ones (Bybee 2001). The following examples include relative clauses, temporal clauses, complement clauses and conditional clauses. These constructions are also representative of the other dependent clauses like causal and concessive clauses.

Relative clauses are usually introduced by the relativizers *ʔi* for persons (45) and *pɔŋ* for things (46).¹¹

- (45) a. ʔi.mâ:j dɛʔ cʰeh [ʔi dih bɛəh] nɔŋ-ʔɔ:ŋ bɛəh
 man small CLF REL read text IRR-pass text
 ‘The boy who learns the text will pass the exam.’ (ENEG_14_M_007)
- b. ʔi.mâ:j dɛʔ cʰeh [ʔi bu:-dih bɛəh] nɔŋ-ʔa:w-ʔɔ:ŋ-maʔ bɛəh
 man small CLF REL NEG-read text IRR-NEG-pass-NEG text
 ‘The boy who does not learn the text will not pass the exam.’
 (ENEG_14_M_008)
- (46) kiʔ nî moh doʔ [pɔŋ njɔm dih ʔɔw]
 NMLZ PROX be.so exhausted REL not.yet read 1SG
 ‘These are the ones I have not read yet.’ (EMSR_19_M_3_059)

Relative clauses can include verbal affixes like the irrealis *nɔŋ-* in (47). Here, the irrealis marker is maintained in the negative clause.

- (47) a. ʔuŋ.hmêəw ʔɔw jêəw bɔw.pʰuŋ cʰeh [ʔi nɔŋ-ʔoh kʰəlêəp]
 yesterday 1SG see friend CLF REL IRR-buy house
 ‘Yesterday, I met the friend who will buy a house.’
- b. ʔuŋ.hmêəw ʔɔw jêəw bɔw.pʰuŋ cʰeh [ʔi nɔŋ-bu:-ʔoh kʰəlêəp]
 yesterday 1SG see friend CLF REL IRR-NEG-buy house
 ‘Yesterday, I met the friend who will not buy a house.’ (pc_3)

¹¹This is only a general distinction. Animals, for example, can be relativized by *ʔi* or *pɔŋ*, depending on the intention of the speaker.

Temporal clauses are introduced by *ʔəkʰjuŋ* ‘time’ (48) which can be interpreted as the relative construction ‘the time when’, or by a conjunction like *ʔà:j* ‘before’ (49).

- (48) [*ʔəkʰjuŋ bu:-deəh pi ʔλw pʌʔ kʰəleəp*] *ʔλw nɔh.hɲjap-maʔ*
time NEG-come elder.sibling 1SG LOC house 1SG worried-NEG
‘When my brother did not come home, I was not worried.’
(ENEG_13_M_1/2_167)

- (49) a. [*ʔà:j teəh māj tʌʔ ʃûŋ təmâ:j dʃ*] *hmò māj kû:n māj*
before take 2SG OBL work new ANA ask 2SG father 2SG
‘Before you accept that new job, ask your father.’
b. [*ʔà:j ɲjʌm teəh māj tʌʔ ʃûŋ təmâ:j dʃ*] *hmò māj kû:n māj*
before not.yet take 2SG OBL work new ANA ask 2SG father 2SG
‘Before you don’t accept that new job, ask your father.’ (pc_3)

In (49b), the negator *ɲjʌm* ‘not yet’ is used, but neither the prefix *hɲj-* ‘NSIT’ nor the secondary verb *hò:j* occur in the positive clause (49a). That means, *ɲjʌm* is not triggered by the aspectual markers, but its use depends on the intention of the speaker.

For the complements in (50), an English translation with a finite as well as a non-finite verb is possible.

- (50) a. *ʔλw jêəw ʔû:n [hôm ʔân]*
1SG see keep eat 3SG
‘I saw that she was eating.’
‘I saw her eat.’
b. *ʔλw jêəw ʔû:n [bu:-hôm ʔân]*
1SG see keep NEG-eat 3SG
‘I saw that she was not eating.’
‘I saw her not eat.’ (pc_3)

This brings up the question about finiteness in Rumai. Bisang (2001) discusses this feature from different views. These are finiteness as a scalar phenomenon and finiteness due to morphological or syntactical reasons. Rumai lexical verbs are invariable in their form, but there are the aspectual affixes and postverbal secondary verbs. If there are clause types, where some of these markers are excluded, or at least very uncommon, one could say that these clauses are less finite. However, this needs more research.

Complement clauses following verbs of thinking (51) and saying (52) are constructed like main clauses. This means that they are verb medial, and they use the negators of main clauses. The suffix *-maʔ* is possible, but not frequent in these complement clauses.

- (51) a. ʔλw t^haŋ [ʔân nΛŋ-deəh]
 1SG think 3SG IRR-come
 ‘I think he will come.’
 b. ʔλw t^haŋ [ʔân nΛŋ-ʔa:w-deəh(-maʔ)]
 1SG think 3SG IRR-NEG-come-NEG
 ‘I think he will not come.’
 c. ʔλw ʔa:w-t^haŋ-maʔ [ʔân nΛŋ-deəh]
 1SG NEG-think-NEG 3SG IRR-come
 ‘I don’t think he will come.’
 d. ʔλw ʔa:w-t^haŋ-maʔ [ʔân nΛŋ-ʔa:w-deəh(-maʔ)]
 1SG NEG-think-NEG 3SG IRR-NEG-come-NEG
 ‘I don’t think he will not come.’ (pc_3)
- (52) a. ʔân dΛh [ʔân nΛŋ-deəh]
 3SG say 3SG IRR-come
 ‘He said that he will come.’
 b. ʔân dΛh [ʔân nΛŋ-ʔa:w-deəh(-maʔ)]
 3SG say 3SG IRR-NEG-come-NEG
 ‘He said that he will not come.’
 c. ʔân ʔa:w-dΛh-maʔ [ʔân nΛŋ-deəh]
 3SG NEG-say-NEG 3SG IRR-come
 ‘He didn’t say that he will come.’
 d. ʔân ʔa:w-dΛh-maʔ [ʔân nΛŋ-ʔa:w-deəh(-maʔ)]
 3SG NEG-say-NEG 3SG IRR-NEG-come-NEG
 ‘He didn’t say that he will not come.’ (pc_3)

Conditional clauses are verb-medial, nevertheless, like other dependent clauses, the negators are limited to *bu:-* (53) and *ɲjΛm* (54).

- (53) [sΛ māj bu:-təpâ:w] mΛŋ-jəh ɲərà:j
 COND 2SG NEG-listen 2SG.IRR-fall hell
 ‘If you don’t listen, you will fall to hell.’ (WPKT_14_L_082)

- (54) a. [k^hΛ māj hɔj-teəh hâ:j] pù ɲâj
COND 2SG NSIT-take wood blow fire
'If you have brought the wood already, make a fire.'
- b. [k^hΛ māj **ɲjam** teəh hâ:j] teəh caŋ.naj
COND 2SG not.yet take wood take now
'If you haven't brought the wood yet, bring it now.' (pc_3)

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

In Rumai, there are no negative lexicalizations. The only negative marker that comes close to them is *ɲjam* 'not yet'. It is probably derived from a former verb with the meaning 'dilatory' or 'stiff'. However, as it usually replaces the new situation prefix *hɔj-* and/or the secondary verb *hâ:j* 'finish' of the positive clause, it is part of the Rumai aspect system, and is therefore treated in the section about standard negation (§2.1).

3 Non-clausal negation

Non-clausal negation is rare in Rumai. The only examples which have been found so far are answers to questions that include 'already' in the translation. The features of the other structures intended in this section will be described in as much detail as possible.

3.1 Negative replies

Example (55) shows a positive and a negative question, and (56) shows the corresponding answers.

- (55) a. sΛw bjɔh lΛh
dog bark Q
'Is the dog barking?'
- b. sΛw ʔa:w-bjɔh hΛh
dog NEG-bark Q
'Is the dog not barking?' (pc_3)

The answers to both questions are clausal, and they are the same. This means that the positive answer *bjɔh* 'bark' does not agree with the polarity of the neg-

ative question and the negative answer ('not bark') not with the polarity of the positive question.¹²

- (56) a. *bjɔh* (ʔɣ)
bark ASRT
'Yes.' (the dog is barking)
b. *ʔa:w-bjɔh-maʔ*
NEG-bark-NEG
'No.' (the dog is not barking) (pc_3)

The assertive marker ʔɣ is not obligatory, and so negation in the answers is symmetric.

Questions including *hɔʔ* (57) which is usually translated by 'already' (see also §2.2.2) can be answered in two ways. The first answers are clausal (57b and 57c), and the second ones are not (57d and 57e).

- (57) a. *mâj ʔɣh hɔʔ kâ*
2SG buy PTCL car
'Did you already buy the car?'
b. *ʔɣh hò:j*
buy finish
'Yes.'
c. *ɲjɔm ʔɣh-maʔ*
not.yet buy-NEG
'No.'
d. *hɔʔ*
PTCL
'Yes.'
e. *ɲjɔm*
not.yet
'No.' (pc_3)

These answers, which are a simple *hɔʔ* for the positive one and *ɲjɔm* 'not yet' for the negative one, are the only non-clausal answers so far detected in Rumai.

¹²Several studies propose different categories of polar answers. However, the sample of Rumai answers is too small to draw a conclusion in this respect. For more information about polar answers see for example Moser (2018) and Enfield et al. (2019).

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

There are five indefinites in Rumai that are also used in negative clauses. Three of them are derived from interrogatives, namely *hmeəʔ* ‘any’ from *hmeə* ‘which, when’, *c^hiʔ* ‘anyone’ from *c^hi* ‘who’ and *siʔ* ‘something, anything’ from *si* ‘what’. Additionally, there are the indefinite pronoun *ʔi* ‘others’ and the experiential prefix *tam-* ‘ever’. All the clauses that include indefinites are negated by means of standard negation.

The use of the indefinite *hmeəʔ* ‘any’ in negative clauses is shown in (58) and (59).

- (58) *cəʔuʔ ʔa:w-məəh pʌʔ hmeəʔ*
 book NEG-exist LOC any
 ‘The book is nowhere.’ (pc_3)

- (59) *buun hmeəʔ mʌ ʔʌw bu:-bî māj*
 time any RESTR 1SG NEG-forget 2SG
 ‘I will never forget you.’ (WPKT_14_L_077)

Examples (60) and (61) illustrate *c^hiʔ* ‘anyone’ in a positive and a negative clause.

- (60) *c^hiʔ sʌ jʌŋ hŋja lûjɬəbùj nʌŋ-kəŋâ tam jʌ:m*
 anyone COND sell tobacco white IRR-come.across punishment death
 ‘Anyone, if he sells heroin, will be punished with the death penalty.’
 (WPKT_14_L_096)

- (61) *pʌŋ səmâ jê c^hiʔ mʌ ʔa:w-bɛ-maʔ lʌʔ deəh bjâ bɣn*
 REL know 1PL.EXCL anyone RESTR NEG-can-NEG COMP come steal get
 ‘Nobody can steal what we know.’ (W1_025)

siʔ ‘something, anything’ is also used in positive (62) and in negative (63) clauses.

- (62) *kap lo cʌm rêən siʔ mʌ jʌw ʔuun.sətà dih*
 tight need INCL do anything RESTR fear heat DISC
 ‘Although there was something to do, we feared the heat.’
 (C3_17_MS_9_057)

- (63) *ʔân ʔa:w-kəsòj dʌh-maʔ siʔ*
 3SG NEG-respond say-NEG anything
 ‘He doesn’t respond to anything.’ (WPKT_14_L_271)

The indefinite pronoun *ʔi* ‘others’ is shown in (64) and (65). The semantics of this pronoun suggest that the speaker is excluded, but this is still to be clarified.

- (64) *pjatəna nî ʔi bɛ lʔ pʰje*
 problem PROX others can COMP answer
 ‘Anyone can solve this problem.’ (pc_3)

- (65) *ʔa:w-meəh-maʔ ʔi nʌ ʔəpʰje*
 NEG-exist-NEG others know answer
 ‘Nobody knows the answer.’ (pc_3)

Examples (66) and (67) show the use of the experiential prefix *tʌm-*.

- (66) *ʔà:j nî māj tʌm-cʌ:m lʌh kũŋ korijâ*
 before PROX 2SG EXP-reach Q state Korea
 ‘Have you ever been in Korea before?’ (WPKT_14_L_044)
- (67) *ʔʌw ʔa:w-tʌm-cʌ:m-maʔ*
 1SG NEG-EXP-reach-NEG
 ‘I have never been there.’ (WPKT_14_L_045)

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

There are no special expressions for meanings like absence, opposition or antonymy in Rumai. Instead, these meanings are expressed by common lexical and syntactical means. Examples (68–70) show some of these constructions.

- (68) a. *pen dâ*
 good use
 ‘useful’
 b. *bu:-pen dâ*
 NEG-good use
 ‘useless’ (pc_3)
- (69) *cʰiʔ ɲjʌm dih-maʔ bəəh nî*
 anyone not.yet read-NEG text PROX
 ‘This text is unread.’ (lit. ‘No one has read this text so far.’) (pc_3)
- (70) *cʰiʔ bu:-bɛ-maʔ lʔ dih bəəh nî*
 anyone NEG-can-NEG COMP read text PROX
 ‘This text is unreadable.’ (lit. ‘No one can read this text.’) (pc_3)

4 Other aspects of negation

The phenomena discussed in this section are not negative constructions or expressions themselves but occur in connection with negation.

4.1 The scope of negation

In Rumai, the scope of negation is dependent on the context. This means, the negator(s) keep their usual position and there are no scope-indicating morphemes. In (71), the scope is on the object and in (72) it is on the whole clause.

- (71) ʔλw dih-maʔ cəʔuʔ ʔλw dih bèə
1SG read-NEG book 1SG read text
'I am not reading a book but a letter.' (pc_1)
- (72) buən hmeəʔ mλ ʔλw tλm-gô:j-maʔ mandale
time any RESTR 1SG EXP-stay-NEG Mandalay
'I have never lived in Mandalay.' (ENEG_13_M_1/2_051)

Not much about the scope of negation in Rumai is known so far, and more research is needed.

4.2 Negative polarity

No negative polarity items have been found in research on the language so far.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation.

Negation does not affect the marking of noun phrases in Rumai.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The negative suffix *-maʔ* that was originally the means for reinforcing negation is pragmatically bleached today as it is used very frequently, and it may also be the sole negator in a clause (73).¹³

- (73) kê nλ-maʔ ʔuən.dλ:n hméə kê nλŋ-hâ:w
3PL know-NEG way which 3PL IRR-go
'They don't know which way they have to go.' (EMR_19_M_3_026)

Whether prosody plays a role in reinforcing negation is not yet clear.

¹³See also §2.1., especially the comment after example (6), and §4.6.2 for Jespersen Cycle.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

According to the present database, there are no special coordinators, constructions for contrastive negation, or negative conjunctions in dependent clauses in Rumai.

For example, “neither...nor” constructions are expressed by a simple juxtaposition of two clauses (74), or the coordination of objects (75), showing standard negation. Whether the choice of the negators, namely *-maʔ* in (74), and *ʔa:w-...-maʔ* in (75) is mandatory in these constructions is still to be clarified.

- (74) ʔʌw dih-**maʔ** cəʔuʔ ʔʌw dih-**maʔ** bə̀əh
 1SG read-NEG book 1SG read-NEG text
 ‘I am neither reading a book nor a letter.’ (ENEG_13_M_1/2_004)

- (75) ʔʌn ʔa:w-ʔyh-**maʔ** səkǰ tu kľ:j
 3SG NEG-buy-NEG cucumber and banana
 ‘He buys neither a cucumber nor a banana.’ (pc_3)

tu ‘and’ is not very frequent in the corpus, but it is also used in positive clauses, so that the meaning ‘nor’ can be excluded.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

In this section, negative transport (§4.6.1) and diachronic observations (§4.6.2) are discussed.

4.6.1 Negative transport

By negative transport, the negation of an independent clause is interpreted as the negation of the predicate of a dependent clause (Miestamo 2009: 223). In such a reading, in sentences like (76c) and (77c), not the thinking would be negated but the coming, and the sentences would be nearly synonymous with (76b) and (77b), respectively. However, in Rumai there is no evidence for this phenomenon. The two clauses in the corresponding Rumai sentences (76, here repeated from 51) and (77) have both AVP word order as it is usual in independent clauses, and like in other independent clauses, they can be negated by *ʔa:w-* and *-maʔ*, the negators that never occur in dependent ones. So, in these Rumai sentences there is rather coordination than subordination. Furthermore, the sentences can be translated by using different negators, as it is shown in (76) and (77). The translations are from the same consultant but elicited independently at different times.

- (76) a. ʔλw t^haŋ ʔân nΛŋ-deəh
1SG think 3SG IRR-come
'I think he will come.'
- b. ʔλw t^haŋ ʔân nΛŋ-ʔa:w-deəh(-maʔ)
1SG think 3SG IRR-NEG-come-NEG
'I think he will not come.'
- c. ʔλw ʔa:w-t^haŋ-maʔ ʔân nΛŋ-deəh
1SG NEG-think-NEG 3SG IRR-come
'I don't think he will come.'
- d. ʔλw ʔa:w-t^haŋ-maʔ ʔân nΛŋ-ʔa:w-deəh(-maʔ)
1SG NEG-think-NEG 3SG IRR-NEG-come-NEG
'I don't think he will not come.' (pc_3)
- (77) a. ʔλw t^haŋ ʔân nΛŋ-deəh
1SG think 3SG IRR-come
'I think that he will come.'
- b. ʔλw t^haŋ ʔân nΛŋ-bu:-deəh-maʔ
1SG think 3SG IRR-NEG-come-NEG
'I think that he will not come (anymore).'
- c. ʔλw t^haŋ-maʔ ʔân nΛŋ-deəh
1SG think-NEG 3SG IRR-come
'I don't think that he will come.'
- d. ʔλw t^haŋ-maʔ ʔân nΛŋ-bu:-deəh
1SG think-NEG 3SG IRR-NEG-come
'I don't think that he will not come.' (pc_3)

4.6.2 Diachronic notes and observations

The introduction of *-maʔ* was probably due to reinforcement of the negation and there might be a Jespersen Cycle, as it is known in other languages and shown for French by van der *van der Auwera* (2010: 78–79). The possible stages for Palaung are shown in Table 4, which follows van der *van der Auwera* (2010: 79).

However, there is a difference between dependent and independent clauses. While the dependent clauses still stay on Stage 1, the independent ones are on Stage 3. As already mentioned, most of the dependent clauses are verb initial, and a postverbal negator in verb-initial languages is highly unusual, as *Dryer*'s (1988) study shows.

Table 4: Stages of negation in Rumai

Stage 1	→	Stage 2	→	Stage 3	→	Stage 4	→	Stage 5
<i>bu:-</i>		<i>bu:-</i>		<i>bu:-</i>		<i>bu:- -ma?</i>		<i>-ma?</i>
		<i>bu:- -ma?</i>		<i>bu:- -ma?</i>		<i>-ma?</i>		
				<i>-ma?</i>				

Dependent clauses are, as described by Bybee (2001), more conservative than independent ones. Therefore, the original general constituent order in Palaung was probably VS/VAP. Then, one can assume that the general negator in Rumai was originally *bu:-*. Only after the constituent order in independent clauses completely changed to AVP, was the postverbal *-ma?* introduced. (Weymuth 2014)

5 Conclusion

In Rumai, the expression of negation is dependent on the clause type. While the negative morphemes *ʔa:w-* ‘NEG’, *bu:-* ‘NEG’, *-ma?* ‘NEG’ and *ɲɲam* ‘not yet’ can all be used in independent clauses, the use is restricted to *bu:-* and *ɲɲam* in dependent ones. The constituent order change from VAP to AVP in the Rumai independent clauses is probably the reason for this feature, because postverbal negators are very unusual in verb initial languages. Additionally, there are the prohibitives *k^hu:-* and *maj-*. The latter seems only to be used, when a corresponding positive imperative clause does not make sense and therefore, it may rather express a well-meaning advice. The negative suffix *-ma?* was originally a means for reinforcing the negation but today it is widespread, and it can also be used alone, so that it is rather a neutral negator now. There might be a Jespersen Cycle with only *bu:-* on stage 1, resulting in *-ma?* as the only negator on stage 5. However, the dependent clauses are still on stage 1, and the independent ones are on stage 3, where the two negators can either be used alone or together. Furthermore, the construction *bu:-V-ma?* often expresses the meaning of ‘not anymore’ in independent clauses. Several aspects of negation in Rumai, like the scope of negation, are still unclear and need more research. Table 5 summarizes the Rumai morphemes connected to negation and their functions.

Table 5: Rumai morphemes connected to negation

Morpheme	Function
<i>bu:-</i>	Main negator in dependent clauses In independent clauses, in combination with <i>-ma?</i> , implicitly or explicitly ‘not anymore’
<i>ʔa:w-</i> <i>-ma?</i>	Main negator in independent clauses In combination with <i>bu:-</i> , <i>ʔa:w-</i> and <i>ɲjΛm</i> , sometimes reinforcement of negation
<i>ɲjΛm</i>	Negator in absence of another negator ‘not yet’
<i>k^hu:-</i>	Prohibitive
<i>maj-</i>	Prohibitive
<i>huʰh</i>	Question particle used in negative questions, but not itself negative

Abbreviations

1	first person	LOC	locative
2	second person	MED	medial
3	third person	NEG	negative
ANA	anaphoric demonstrative	NMLZ	nominalizer
ASRT	assertive	NSIT	new situation
CLF	classifier	OBL	oblique
COMP	complementizer	PL	plural
CONC	concessive	PN	proper name
COND	conditional	POL	polite
DES	desiderative	PROH	prohibitive
DISC	discourse marker	PROX	proximal
DUR	durative	PTCL	particle
EXCL	exclusive	Q	question marker
EXP	experiential	REL	relativizer
INCL	inclusive	RESTR	restrictive
IPFV	imperfective	SG	singular
IRR	irrealis	TCL	topic-comment linker

6 Appendix

Structure of the data labels

1. Short name: shortcut_year_place of recording/edition
2. _consultant(s)/author_example in toolbox
3. pc_X: personal conversation with consultant X

First letter of the shortcuts:	Places:
C conversation	M Mandalay
E elicitation	MS Man Sat (Nam Hkam township)
N narrative	L Lashio
P picture story	
W written text	

HC: @LSP: we would like to have an appendix here that we can refer to in the text, but ideally unnumbered here, and referenced in the text as "Appendix". Shall we use begin paperappendix instead? Could you find a solution for that? Thanks. The appendix goes until right before the References.

Sources of the examples

Short name	Description
C3_17_MS	Conversation about the life in a village
EGGD_16_M	Questionnaire about the use of “give” and “get” and about ditransitive constructions, English
ENEG_13_M	Questionnaire about negation, Burmese/English
ENEG_14_M	Questionnaire about negation, Burmese
EQB_17_M	Questionnaire about Burmese constructions, Burmese/English
EMR_19_M	Questionnaire resumptive pronoun, Burmese
EMSR_19_M	Questionnaire subordinate clauses, Burmese/English
N2_17_MS	About green tea cultivation in a village
PCHT_16_L	Picture story: The chicken thief. Béatrice Rodriguez. 2008. <i>Der Hühnerdieb</i> . Wuppertal: Peter Hammer Verlag.
WA_15_M	Sentences containing aspectual markers from: Sa Pe. 2015. <i>bjat gô:j k^hêəŋ bèə</i> [Being clever with texts]. Mandalay: Self-publishing.
WPKT_14_L	Phrase book Rumai – Shwe – Burmese – English. 2014. Lashio: Ta’ang Students and Youth Union.
W1	Story in <i>Our Ta’ang magazine</i>

Consultants

Nr.	Gender	Y.o.b.	Origin	Education	Occupation	Languages
1	f	1996	Na Aw Gyi village, Man Ton township		bachelor student	Rumai, Burmese, English
2	m	1994	Man Ton township		bachelor student, novice monk	Rumai, Burmese, English
3	m	1988	Man Sat village, Nam Hkam township	Bachelor diploma	monk	Rumai, Burmese, English, Pali
6	m	1993	Sar Lu village, Nam Hkam township		student	Rumai, Burmese
7	f	1959	Man Sat village, Nam Hkam township	Public school in Shan	housewife, farmer	Rumai, Shan, (Burmese)
9	f	1998	Pha Daen village, Nam Hkam township	Public school in Burmese	housewife, farmer	Rumai, Burmese, (English)

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Negation in Nivkh

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Nivkh has a full spectrum of lexical and grammatical devices for expressing clausal negation. These devices are located at different points on the scale of grammaticalization and some of them are the result of grammatical reanalysis and areal contacts. This chapter discusses various aspects of the Nivkh system of negation both from synchronic and diachronic perspectives. A clear border is drawn between the expression of negation in declarative and non-declarative clauses. Except for this distinction, negation of all types of clauses in Nivkh follows common rules and uses basically the same devices. The discussion covers negation strategies in declarative, prohibitive and apprehensive clauses, negation in stative predications, coordinated and subordinate clauses, negative lexicalizations, negative replies, negative emphatics and indefinites, as well as the means of rendering caritive semantics and antonymic low-level negation. The material represents several different Nivkh varieties, which display a considerable variation, and comes from personal field data as well as from other extant sources, including collections of folklore texts.

Keywords: Nivkh, Nighvng, clausal negation, low-level negation, prohibitive, apprehensive.

1 The language

Nivkh (Gilyak, Ghilyak. ISO: [niv](#), Glottocode: [gily1242](#), [sakh1247](#)) is a language isolate spoken on Sakhalin Island and in the Amur region of Russia.¹ The language is traditionally classified as “Paleosiberian”, or “Paleoasiatic”, together with a number of other languages of Siberia and the Russian Far East. As a result of historical expansion from a homeland in central Manchuria to the Lower Amur and further to Sakhalin, Nivkh has been formed as a continuum of several distinct

¹The first version of this article was written in 2019, when Maksim Fedotov was affiliated with the Institute for Linguistic Studies, Russian Academy of Sciences.

idioms with the major split between Amur (Nivkh proper, *gily1242*) and Sakhalin (Nighvng, *sakh1247*) varieties, which, in fact, fulfill the criteria for separate languages and are mutually hardly comprehensible. The Amur Nivkh comprises Amur (A), West Sakhalin (WS) and North Sakhalin (NS) varieties, whereas the Sakhalin Nighvng consists of East Sakhalin (ES), Central Sakhalin (CS) and South Sakhalin (SS, extinct) varieties. The Amur variety is spoken along the Lower Amur on the continent, while the other varieties are used on the Sakhalin Island. Two other varieties covered in this paper are represented by the ES variety, which essentially differs from the A variety, and the WS variety, which can be seen as a transitional variety displaying a mixture of features typical of other varieties. Some of the given varieties can be further divided into several local variants. For this paper, the most essential division is between the Tymovsk (ES^T) and Nyivo (ES^N) variants of the East Sakhalin variety.

For a long historical period, Nivkh has been in close contact with the Tungusic languages both in the Amur area and on Sakhalin, as well as with Ainu (isolate) on Sakhalin. One may assume that during more distant historical times, Nivkh was also influenced by other, already extinct, local languages. More recent historical ties with Japanese and Russian languages date back to the mid-19th century, when the Russians began to settle in the Far East of Russia and on Sakhalin.

At the moment, Nivkh is a heavily endangered language, since the entire Nivkh population has switched to Russian. The current (2022) number of fluent Nivkh speakers, who are all bilingual, is hardly more than 50, with less than 25 for the Lower Amur, Amur Liman and West Sakhalin varieties, only 2 for the North Sakhalin variety, and less than 25 for the East Sakhalin variety.

The paper is based on personal field data collected during the period of 1989–2021 in the Amur area and on Sakhalin Island (also online),² as well as on other extant sources, including collections of folklore texts in different varieties. In most cases, the examples are given in their original transcription, but with an additional morphological segmentation and glossing. Throughout the paper, field examples are marked with an “FM” (= field materials), cf. “(Gruzdeva FM2019: 1:11)”; “(Fedotov FM2013)”.

Typologically, Nivkh is a (poly)synthetic language with a rather complex phonology and predominant suffixation. Possessor and object (including reflexive) markers are prefixed (or rather cliticized) to nouns and transitive verbs. Nivkh is well-known by its root/morpheme-initial consonant alternations, which take place at

²We are extremely grateful to all our consultants for their help in collecting the data on different Nivkh varieties.

morpheme boundaries and within noun and verb phrases.³ Nivkh phonological system has been undergoing various historical changes, the most prominent one being the loss of nasals in stem-final position.

Nivkh noun morphology distinguishes two numbers (singular vs. plural), as well as eight cases in the Amur varieties and seven cases in the Sakhalin varieties. The verbs are characterized by several aspects and moods and two tenses (non-future and future). Contemporary indicative finite forms are historically nominalizations, which explains the fact that these forms (optionally) agree with the subject only in number. The full differentiation of person and number is found only in imperative (hortative, jussive) forms. There are no adjectives that would be morphologically distinct from verbs, but practically all verbal stems irrespective of their meaning may function as adnominal modifiers (= participles) that occur in preposition to the head nominal.

At the level of the simple clause Nivkh displays some features of isolating structure, especially with respect to core arguments, which are typically unmarked. Nivkh has accusative alignment. The canonic word order (for transitive clauses) is [(TOPIC) (SUBJECT) OBJECT PREDICATE] (SOV). All modifiers, except for numeral / quantifier constituent, precede the head nominal. Adverbial clauses are formed by converbs (= dependent forms) of different origins and are arranged in chains concluded by the main clause. The latter, in turn, is built around the clause-final finite (= independent) form. Converbs render various interclausal relations, with the finest differentiation being made within the temporal converbs. Some converbs agree with the subject in person and number similarly to aforementioned finite forms.

Nivkh has a full spectrum of lexical and grammatical devices for expressing clausal negation. These devices are located at different points on the scale of grammaticalization and some of them are the result of grammatical reanalysis and areal contacts. There is also a considerable dialectal variation, which reflects historical developments and calls for diachronic explanations. A clear border is drawn between the expression of negation in declarative and non-declarative (prohibitive and apprehensive) clauses. Besides that, negation of all types of clauses in Nivkh follows some general rules and uses more or less the same devices.

³The words entering the complexes that are subject to morphological alternations are separated in the examples by “+”. For more details on Nivkh polysynthesis see (Mattissen 2003). The rules of morphophonological alternations are not discussed in this paper.

2 Clausal negation

This section discusses various devices for expressing clausal negation in declarative clauses (§2.1) and non-declarative (prohibitive and apprehensive) clauses (§2.2).

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation, which is understood as negation in a simple declarative clause containing a verb (Miestamo 2005), is rendered in Nivkh by various synthetic and analytic verb forms with different history and degree of productivity. We will discuss the basic synthetic negative forms in §2.1.1 and the basic analytic negative forms in §2.1.2. As will be shown, each dialectal variety shows a clear tendency towards employing one or another type. A special synthetic negative habitual form will be discussed in §2.1.3.

2.1.1 Synthetic forms

Synthetic forms are formed by one of the following ways: (i) compounding of the lexical verb with the negative verb *ɣavr*- ‘not exist’, (ii) compounding of the lexical verb with the negative verb *lɔɣə*- ‘not have’, or (iii) suffixation.

In contemporary ES, basic negative synthetic forms are derived by compounding two verbal elements. The resulting complex verb behaves like a regular verb and may undergo subsequent inflection. The first element is the nominalized form of the negated lexical verb, which historically ends in the nominalizer *-ŋ*. Note that nominalizations together with a negative lexicalized verb are very frequent in the negative existential cycle, see Veselinova 2014. In many cases this unstable nasal has been lost in the speech of modern speakers; however, it still determines the quality of the initial consonant of the following element, namely the root of the negative verb *ɣavr*- ‘not exist’. Following the rules of morphophonological alternations, the bound form of this verb, which is used in the synthetic form, has the shape *-ɣavr*-. The negative verb root is synchronically perceived as a negative suffix, though its connection with the free negative verb is rather transparent (see §2.3 and §4.6.1, cf. (1)).⁴ This type of negative construction can be seen as symmetrical to the affirmative one, since the negated verb retains all

⁴Throughout the paper, the examples are given in (quasi)phonemic transcription, made with the International Phonetic Alphabet symbols. This transcription, however, is partly conventional. First, it does not reflect dialectal differences in the phonetic realization of cognate phonemes (such as /ɿ/). Second, in case of the examples taken from other authors – especially (Kreinovich Ms.), it is rather a transliteration from their Cyrillic notation into its rough IPA correspondence.

its categories, including finiteness/non-finiteness. The markers of various verbal categories follow the complex verb stem, as, for example, the future tense suffix *-i* in *vi-gavr-i-d=ra* ‘[I] won’t go’ in (2),⁵ or the iterative suffix *-t^ha* in *vi-gavr-t^ha-d-γun* ‘[usually we] don’t go’ in (3).

- (1) a. *Ni ra-d.*
1SG drink-IND
‘I drink / drank.’
b. *Ni ra-gavr-d.*
1SG drink-NEG-IND
‘I don’t / didn’t drink.’ [ES]
- (2) *N-əmk qo-gu-t ni klub-roχ vi-gavr-i-d=ra.*
1SG-mother be_ill-CAUS-CVB.NARR.1PL 1SG club-DAT go-NEG-FUT-IND=FOC
‘Because my mother is ill, I won’t go to the club.’ (Gruzdeva FM 1991)
[ES^T]
- (3) *Kə-χajnapə c^har+mi-roχ vi-j-d-γun. Ajv=at*
rain-CVB.CONC tree+inside-DAT go-FUT-IND-PL usually=FOC
vi-gavr-t^ha-d-γun.
go-NEG-ITER.1PL-IND-PL
‘Despite the rain, [we]’ll go to the forest. Usually we don’t go.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 4:141) [ES^T]

In the Amur varieties, standard negation is normally expressed by an analytic construction. However, in the future tense, the WS variety and seemingly some other Amur varieties utilize a similar synthetic strategy as in the ES variety, viz. compounding of lexical and negative verb stems, cf. (4) and (5). Note that in contrast to the ES example (2), where the future suffix *-i* is placed after the negative verb root, in these WS examples (from Panfilov 1965), the future suffix *-nə* precedes the negative verb root. This fact also defines the use of the allomorph *-gavr-*, which in this case follows the vowel.

- (4) a. *Qan p^hrə-ʃ.*
dog come-IND
‘The dog comes / came.’

⁵The causative suffix adds the causal meaning to the narrative converb and serves as a switch-reference marker.

- b. **Qan p^hrə-nə-ɤavr-ʃ.**
 dog come-FUT-NEG-IND
 ‘The dog won’t come.’ [WS]

- (5) **Hə+umguola ʃatx=hagin vi-gu-nə-ɤavr-ʃ.**
 that+girl where=EMPH go-CAUS-FUT-NEG-IND
 ‘[He] won’t let the girl go anywhere.’ (Panfilov 1965: 160) [A]

Another synthetic negative form exists only in A and employs the negative possessive verb *ləɣə-* ‘not have’ (§2.3.2). This verb synthesizes with the stem of the lexical verb which is followed by the emphatic suffix *-Tə⁶* (§4.6.2). In this form, *ləɣə-* is fully grammaticalized as a pure negative marker and does not bear any possessive meaning. The whole construction can be seen as symmetrical to its affirmative counterpart, cf. (6). This synthetic construction is much rarer than the analytic form discussed below.

- (6) If **p^hrə-ivi-də-ləɣə-ʃ=ravej.**
 3SG come-PROG-EMPH-NEG-IND=FOC_EMPH
 ‘He’s not coming all the same.’ (Panfilov 1965: 160) [A]

2.1.2 Analytic forms

In various Nivkh varieties there are altogether three negative analytic constructions, all of which contain a nominalized form of a negated lexical verb and a negative verb. The corresponding lexical verb can be synchronically zero-nominalized, nominalized with the suffix ES *-(n)d* or the suffix *-k*.

In WS and A, standard negation is typically expressed by an analytic construction comprising a synchronically zero-nominalized lexical verb, which is marked by the dative suffix *-Toχ*.⁷ Historically, this verb form ended in a nasal, which makes *-doχ* the correct allomorph in this context, according to the morphophonological rules. The resulting form is immediately followed by the negative verb *q^haw-* ‘not exist’, cf. (7–8):

- (7) a. If **p^hrə-ʃ.**
 3SG come-IND
 ‘S/he came.’

⁶The suffix has variants *-tə*, *-rə*, *-də*.

⁷The dative suffix has the variants *-toχ*, *-roχ*, *-doχ*. In some works on Nivkh, the final fricative of the dative suffix is transcribed as velar: *-tox*, *-rox*, *-dox*.

- b. If **p^hrə-dox q^haw-ʃ**.
 3SG come-DAT NEG-IND
 ‘S/he didn’t come.’ [WS]

- (8) If **p^h-ətək nəmɾ mu-jnə-ʃ+xrərə imŋ-dox p^hrə-dox q^hau-ʃ**.
 3SG REFL-father yesterday die-DES-NMLZ+because_of 3PL-DAT come-DAT
 NEG-IND
 ‘He didn’t come to their place (lit. ‘to them’) because of his father’s
 having fallen ill the day before.’ (Nedjalkov & Otaina 2013: 66) [A]

The negative form can be also derived from an ideophone. In example (9), it consists of the ideophone *poj* describing the visual image of smoke, the nominalized form of the auxiliary verb *ha-* ‘be / do so’, and the negative verb.

- (9) **T^huf poj ha-dox q^hau-ʃ**.
 smoke curl do_SO-DAT NEG-IND
 ‘The smoke doesn’t curl.’ (Panfilov 1965: 222) [A]

As can be seen from examples (7–9), in declarative epistemically neutral sentences the negative verb *q^haw-* is typically used in the indicative mood, which is marked by the suffix A *-ʃ* or *-c*. In the same context, the negative verb can also be used in the nominalized form in *-k* (an agentive nominalizer), cf. (10).

- (10) **Mu+bəvə-də-ləyət nən vi-nə-dox q^hau-k=ra**.
 boat+repair-EMPH-not_have-CVB.NARR.1PL 1PL.EXCL go-FUT-DAT
 NEG-NMLZ.AGT=FOC
 ‘Without repairing the boat, we won’t go.’ (Panfilov 1965: 160) [A]

In the speech of the modern speakers of the LA and WS varieties, the negative analytic construction has undergone further changes, so that the dative suffix is nowadays pronounced as *-to* or *-ta* or even *-tə* rather than *-dox*. The *-d > -t* change is in line with the general process of devoicing of plosives, which is attested in these varieties, whereas the loss of final *χ* and the *o > a* change are connected with the reduction that takes place in word-final unstressed syllables. As a result of these processes, the connection of this marker to the dative suffix is weakening and the whole construction is becoming further grammaticalized, cf. (11):

- (11) a. Həʃ məkr-ʃ=ra.
that be_right-IND=FOC
'This is right.'
- b. Həʃ məkr-ta q^haw-ʃ.
that be_right-DAT NEG-IND
'This isn't right.' (Jushkina 2019) [AL]

The negative analytic complex displays regular inflection: aspect and modality are marked on the lexical verb, tense can be marked either on the lexical verb, as in (10) and (12a), or on the negative verb, as in (12b), whereas mood and finiteness / non-finiteness are marked exclusively on the negative verb, cf. the finite form of the negative verb in the adversative mood in (13):

- (12) a. Tə+als-ku ɲepi-nə-dox q^haw-ʃ.
this+berry-PL be_sweet-FUT-DAT NEG-IND
'These berries won't be sweet.'
- b. Tə+als-ku ɲepi-dox q^haw-nə-ʃ.
this+berry-PL be_sweet-DAT NEG-FUT-IND
'These berries won't be sweet.' [A]
- (13) Ni c^h-sa-dox q^hau-bənevo-ɬar.
1SG 2SG-beat-DAT NEG-PROB-ADVS
'It seems [that] I didn't beat you.' (Kreinovich 1934: 213) [A]

Synchronically, the entire analytic construction of negation is asymmetrical to the affirmative one, since the lexical verb loses its finiteness and is deverbalized (type A/Fin/(NegVerb) in Miestamo's (2005) classification).

Another analytic construction seems to be used only in ES and is attested only in Kreinovich Ms.⁸ It is not known to the contemporary speakers. This construction comprises the lexical verb in the nominalized form with the suffix *-(n)d*, which functions as an object to the negative verb *ɬavr*.⁹ Note that in the finite

⁸We refer to the unpublished Nivkh texts that had been collected by E. A. Kreinovich on Sakhalin in 1926–1928 (Kreinovich Ms.). Copies of these documents from the E. A. Kreinovich Fund in Sakhalin Regional Museum had been kindly provided to us by A. B. Ostrovskii (part of them were discovered by the Museum and part by A. B. Ostrovskii himself). Russian translations of these texts were made in 2012–2013 by N. Ja. Tanzina, V. N. Sachgun and G. I. Paklina in collaboration with A. B. Ostrovskii and were published separately in (Ostrovskii 2016, Kreinovich 2016). The authors are grateful to A. B. Ostrovskii, M. M. Prokofiev, and Sakhalin Regional Museum for the opportunity to use these data.

⁹In the texts this verb is recorded as *xovr*- or *xavr*- with the initial velar voiceless fricative.

predicative form the suffix *-(n)d* was reanalyzed as an indicative mood marker. In example (14a), one can see the nominalized form *lu-nd* ‘singing’ and the finite form of the negative verb *xovr-nd*. The contemporary synthetic variant of the same construction is given in (14b).

- (14) a. Ni vuu-nd. Ni **lu-nd+xovr-nd**.
 1SG cry-IND 1SG sing-NMLZ+NEG-IND
 ‘I’m crying, I’m not singing.’ (Kreinovich Ms. : D824:12v–15, «Indən. Təlgund») [ES]
- b. Ni vuw-d. Ni **lu-gavr-d**.
 1SG cry-IND 1SG sing-NEG-IND
 ‘I’m crying, I’m not singing.’ (an adaptation of the same text into modern ES by G. I. Paklina) [ES]

Furthermore, Kreinovich’s texts contain examples of one more negative construction with the negative verb *kau-* (= *q^haw-*). Here, the nominalized lexical verb in the form of *-(n)d* apparently functions as a finite verb form, whereas the negative verb, which is also nominalized, forms an additional one-word clause, cf. *vi-i-nd=ra kau-k=re* ‘[I] won’t go’ in (15), in which one person quotes two different people.

- (15) J-aki. C^h-ingrə-i-nd=ra.
 3SG-elder_brother 2SG-go_together-FUT-IND=FOC
 ‘His elder brother [said]: I’ll go with you.’
- Ugrər **vi-i-nd=ra** **kau-k=re**.
 together go-FUT-IND=FOC NEG-NMLZ.AGT=FOC_EMPH
 ‘[The other person said:] [I] won’t go together [with you].’
- Niyəvəŋ+to-inə-tla agu-nd=ra[.] Park vi-inə-nd=ra.
 man+help-DES-ASRT.1SG not_want-IND=FOC only go-DES-IND=FOC
 ‘[I] don’t want to help the man. [I]’ll go myself.’ (Kreinovich Ms. : D363:1–13, «Pal təlgund») [ES]

An alternative negation strategy, which is used by some modern speakers of ES, can be seen as an extension of the basic synthetic form. It is formed through the following steps: First, according to the general rule, the negative verb *gavr-* combines with a lexical verb root. Then, the resulting negative stem is nominalized by the suffix *-k*, cf. *orbot-gavr-k* ‘a not working one’ in (16). The full form is ultimately created by the auxiliary verb *ha-* ‘be / do so’, which takes all verbal

markers, including non-finite ones, cf. (16). Synchronically, this construction is structurally not symmetrical to the positive one, but it is likely that a parallel affirmative analytic construction once existed in ES, since the verb *ha-* ‘be / do so’ is widely used in this variety for deriving analytic forms.

- (16) N-ətk orbot-gavr-k ha-ŋa eɣlŋ-gun+ŋrə~ŋrə-d.
 1SG-father work-NEG-NMLZ.AGT do_SO-CVB.SIM child-PL+look~PLAC-IND
 ‘When my father didn’t work, he looked after the children.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 7) [ES]

2.1.3 Negative habitual form

Nivkh has also a specific negative habitual form that refers to a characteristic situation that does not hold at all times.¹⁰ Note that there are no positive habitual forms in Nivkh. This form is derived by the suffix *-Ksu*¹¹, which historically comes back to the negative verb ES *j-ayzu-*, A *j-ayzu-* ‘not know’ (§2.5), cf. (17–18):

- (17) Jaŋ arak+ra-ysu-nt.
 3SG vodka+drink-HAB.NEG-IND
 ‘He (usually) doesn’t drink vodka.’ [ES]
- (18) C^haj+χav-u-t ra-ysu-ta.
 tea+be_hot-TR-CVB.NARR.3PL drink-HAB.NEG-COORD.3PL
 Civla+c^hax=park+ta~ra-ta.
 cold+water=only+drink~PLAC-COORD.3PL
 ‘[They] don’t drink hot tea (lit. [they] tea heating, don’t drink [it]), [they] drink only cold water.’ (Panfilov 1965: 161) [WS]

Like in other cases, in the A variety, the stem of the lexical verb can be followed by the emphatic suffix *-Tə*, cf. (19):

- (19) C^hi ŋəŋ-dox p^hrə-də-ksu-ŋ.
 2SG 1PL.EXCL-DAT come-EMPH-HAB.NEG-IND
 ‘You don’t [even] come to our [place].’ (Panfilov 1965: 161) [A]

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

There are two types of non-declarative sentences that express negation either directly or intrinsically: prohibitives (§2.2.1) and apprehensives (§2.2.2).

¹⁰Cf. the definition of habitual aspect in (Comrie 1976: 27).

¹¹The negative habitual suffix has the variants *-ksu*, *-ysu*.

2.2.1 Prohibitives

Imperative (hortative, jussive) forms are the only forms in Nivkh that display a full differentiation of person and number. They are formed by attaching the suffixes listed in Table 1 to a verbal stem.

Table 1: Imperative suffixes in Nivkh

(a) Amur variety				(b) East Sakhalin variety			
	Singular	Dual	Plural		Singular	Dual	Plural
1	<i>-nəkta, -nəxta</i>	<i>-n(ə)te</i>	<i>-da</i>	1	-	<i>-nate</i>	<i>-da</i>
2	<i>-ja</i>	<i>-ve</i>	<i>-ve</i>	2	<i>-ja</i>	<i>-ve</i>	<i>-ve</i>
3	<i>-vazo</i>	<i>-vazo</i>	<i>-vazo</i>	3	<i>-varo</i>	<i>-varɐʷ(a)ro</i>	<i>-varɐʷ(a)ro</i>

In all varieties, the prohibitive meaning can be expressed by a dedicated prohibitive construction with the special negator t^ha which precedes, directly or non-directly, the corresponding positive imperative form. Prohibitive constructions are therefore completely symmetrical to the affirmative ones, cf. (20–22):

- (20) a. Ph_ṛə-ja.
come-IMP.2SG
'Come!'
b. Th^a p^hṛə-ja.
NEG come-IMP.2SG
'Don't come!' [ES]
- (21) Th^a tus+p^hi-ṛ kəpr-ja.
NEG here+be_situated-CVB.NARR.2SG stand-IMP.2SG
'Don't stand here!' [ES]
- (22) Ni i-xez-t it-c. Th^a valc-ja.
1SG 3SG-tell-CVB.NARR.1SG say-IND NEG lie-IMP.2SG
'I told him: "Don't lie!"' (Jushkina 2019) [AL]

Furthermore, the ES variety makes use of an alternative prohibitive strategy, which is identical to standard negation. In that case the negative verb *kavr-* synthesizes with the lexical verb and the yielded complex verb appears in the corresponding imperative form. Again, the negative form is symmetrical to the affirmative one, cf. (23–24):

- (23) a. P^hṛə-ja.
come-IMP.2SG
'Come!'
b. P^hṛə-gavr-ja.
come-NEG-IMP.2SG
'Don't come!' [ES]
- (24) C^ho k^he+mi+si-n¹² huji-gavr-ve
fish fishing_net+inside+put-CVB.NARR.2PL.IMP leave-NEG-IMP.2PL
qanṇ-gun i-n-ṣar-i-d-yun.
dog-PL 3SG-eat-COMPL-FUT-IND-PL
'Don't [pl.] leave fish in the fishing nets, [otherwise] the dogs will eat it.'
(Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:38:316) [ES^T]

2.2.2 Apprehensives

Apprehensives¹³ are used when a speaker attempts to prevent undesirable consequences of the situation by means of appealing to the addressee (see e.g. [Lichtenberk 1995](#)). These forms can be seen as intrinsically negative. In Nivkh, there are special apprehensive forms, which contrast two evidential meanings (cf. [Kreinovich 1979](#): 316), specifying the source of fear. Basing on this parameter, one can distinguish: (i) direct (visual) apprehensives and (ii) inferential apprehensives.¹⁴

Visual apprehensive is issued in the situation when the speaker directly observes the situation that may lead to undesirable consequences. In the A variety, it is marked by the complex marker *-nəra* that comprises the future tense suffix *-nə* and the emphatic/direct evidential suffix *-ra* which is apparently used irrespective of the number of addressees and the person-number of the subject. The resulting meaning can be literally analyzed as 'be aware that sb. is going to do sth.!', cf. *vi-nəra* in (25):

¹²The suffix *-n* is a variant of the converbal suffix *-ṛ*, which is used when the finite verb occurs in the future or imperative forms.

¹³The corresponding forms in other languages are alternatively called 'lest' forms, timitives, evitatives, avoiditives, admonitives, preventives, dubitatives, precautionary imperatives, etc.

¹⁴This distinction seems to be typologically unusual. One example of a similar evidential contrast in apprehensive markers is found in Tariana, which has a visual and a non-visual apprehensive clitics ([Aikhenvald 2003](#): 384–387). We are grateful to an anonymous reviewer for this observation and for the reference.

- (25) Əlc-yo ɛɣgut oz-ve q^hotr vi-nəra.
 servant-VOC.PL quickly.2PL get_up-IMP.2PL bear go-APPR.VIS
 ‘Servants, get up quickly! [Otherwise] the bear will go away!’ (Panfilov 1965: 118) [A]

In the ES variety, there are two corresponding apprehensive markers differentiated by the number of addressees: *-inəŋra* for singular and *-inəŋta* for plural. Both markers contain (at least historically) the desiderative/intentional suffix *-inə* and the nominalizer *-ŋ*. The final segments *-ra* and *-ta* are the singular and plural variants of the emphatic/ direct evidential suffix that are used according to the number of the subject, as presented in Table 2. The resulting meaning is: ‘Be aware that sb. is going to do sth.!’ For instance, when the addressee(s) is/are going along a slippery road, the speaker may warn him/her/them, cf. (26–28).

- (26) a. Kuc-*inəŋra*.
 fall_down-APPR.VIS.2SG
 ‘[Careful,] don’t fall down!’
 b. Kuc-*inəŋta*.
 fall_down-APPR.VIS.2PL
 ‘Don’t [pl.] fall down!’ [ES]
- (27) Laɣk+vaxc-u-*jnəŋra*.
 dress+burst-TR-APPR.VIS.2SG
 ‘Don’t tear your dress!’ (Gruzdeva FM1989: 3:13) [ES^T]
- (28) P^hɲafq^hɲafq+aɣaɣ-*inəŋta*.
 each_other+disturb-APPR.VIS.2PL
 ‘Don’t [pl.] disturb each other!’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 4:36) [ES^T]

Inferential apprehensives are used when the speaker foresees undesirable consequences basing not on direct evidence, but on previous experience. These forms seem to be very rare in the A variety. They are mentioned in (Kreinovich 1979: 316) in connection with the following example. Giving away a fragile object for a temporary use, the speaker is warning the addressee: *zosq-ijra* [break-APPR.INFR] ‘don’t break [it]!’. The inferential apprehensive marker *-ijra* or *-əjra* consists of the emphatic/evidential suffix *-ra* and the segment *-ij* or *-əj* with an unknown origin, cf. (29):

- (29) Ola atak+vapak c^hi zosq-əjra.
 child.voc grandfather+toy 2SG break-APPR.INFR
 ‘Child, don’t break grandfather’s toy!’ (Panfilov 1965: 224) [A]

The corresponding forms also exist in the ES variety, where there are two inferential apprehensive markers opposed by number of the addressees: *-jaŋra* for singular and *-jaŋta* for plural. Both variants comprise the same component *-ja*, which can be probably connected with the 2SG imperative marker *-ja*, and the nominalizer *-ŋ*. The final components, i.e. *-ra* in the singular and *-ta* in the plural are of the same origin as the corresponding components of the visual apprehensive markers discussed above, cf. (30):

- (30) a. **Zosq-jaŋra.**
break-APPR.INFR.2SG
'Don't break [it]!'
b. **Zosq-jaŋta.**
break-APPR.INFR.2PL
'Don't [pl.] break [it]!' [ES]

Table 2: Distribution of common elements of suffixes of the apprehensive forms and the negative purposive converb

	Singular	Dual	Plural
first person	<i>t</i>	<i>t</i>	<i>t</i>
second person	<i>r</i>	-	<i>t</i>
third person	<i>r</i>	-	<i>t</i>

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Existential (§2.3.1), possessive (§2.3.2) and locative (§2.3.3) predications are verbal both in the affirmative and the negative and have a similar structure. Affirmative existential and locative clauses are differentiated by verbal predicates employed in the predicative position, but this differentiation is absent in the negative constructions. Due to the lack of adjectives as a separate part-of-speech category, there are no special attributive predications. Equative clauses (§2.3.4) are built only with nominal predications, whereas ascriptive clauses (§2.3.5) contain either nominal or nominalized predicates, following a well-known cross-linguistic tendency (Veselinova 2013b). The most versatile negators for all stative predications are the negative verbs ES, WS *qavr-* (intransitive), *ɓavr-* (transitive), WS, A *q^haw-* (intransitive) 'not exist'. All three verbs are diachronically connected to each other (§4.6.1).

2.3.1 Negation of existential predications

Affirmative existential clauses are formed with the clause-final verb *jiv* ‘exist, have’ and have the structure [EXISTEE NP (subject, unmarked) EXISTENTIAL/POSSESSIVE V (predicate)], cf. (31). In case the clause contains a NP indicating location, the latter is typically case-marked with the locative (in A) or the ablative (in WS and ES) or is followed by a locative postposition and occupies the topical clause-initial position. The structure of the clause is then [LOCATIVE NP (topic, marked) EXISTEE NP (subject, unmarked) EXISTENTIAL/POSSESSIVE V (predicate)], cf. (31–32). In colloquial speech, especially in dialogues, the existential/possessive verb can be omitted, cf. (33).

- (31) Q^ho-ror t^hət oz-ŋan v-eɲaɲχ
sleep-CVB.DIST morning get_up-CVB.SIM 3SG-old_woman
ily+ha:s+iṁə-ʃ. Na+sɲaj jiv-ra
made_of_deerskin+clothes+give-IND beast+image exist-COORD.3SG
c^ho+sɲaj jiv-ra.
fish+image exist-COORD.3SG
'When, after sleeping, [he] got up, his old woman gives him clothes made
of deerskin. There was an image of a beast, there was an image of a fish.'
(Panfilov 1965: 226) [A]
- (32) Mulk+mi-x als jiv-ʃ.
birch_bark_basket+inside-ABL berry exist-IND
'There are berries in the birch bark basket.' (Gruzdeva FM2019: 2) [WS]
- (33) Q: Təf+mi-x aɲ?
house+inside-ABL who
'Who's in the house?'
A: Təf+mi-x ɲ-əmək.
house+inside-ABL 1SG-mother
'My mother is in the house.' (Gruzdeva FM2019: 2) [WS]

Existential predications can be negated in several ways. Folklore texts in the various dialectal varieties contain clauses with the general negator *q^haw*, which occurs in the predicative position without any derivational or inflectional markers. The negated structure is [EXISTEE NP (subject, unmarked) NEGATOR (predicate)], which is similar to the affirmative one, except that the predicate, which completes the clause, is non-verbal, cf. (34–35):

- (34) Niyəvəj kxáu:¹⁵ puiŋa kxáu mifŋa kxáu c^ho kxáu tol'ŋa
 man NEG bird NEG land_animal NEG fish NEG sea_animal
 kxáu:.

NEG

‘There are no men, no birds, no land animals, no fish, no sea animals.’

(*Kreinovich Ms.* D540:7–15+22–24v, «Nuyə k^hen jaqr... [1]») [ES]

- (35) Hə+pət aŋcəj ivŋ+ŋarmu-j. Napa q^hau.
 that+tomorrow again 3PL+wait-IND still NEG

‘Tomorrow [he] waits for them again. [They’re] still not [here].’ (*Panfilov 1965*: 248) [A]

Another type of negative existential clauses has a symmetrical structure to the affirmative one, i.e. [EXISTEE NP (subject, unmarked) NEGATIVE V (predicate)], and can be further extended by the locative NP. In the ES variety, the predicate is the intransitive negative verb *qavr-*, cf. (36), which in the A variety has the form *q^haw-* ‘not exist’. In the WS variety, the negative verb is attested in both forms, cf. (37). Constructions with the intransitive negative verb are also used for negation of locative predications (§2.3.3).

- (36) Ni c^hma-t pɾə-nd=ra. Min+ŋaŋk
 1SG visit-CVB.NARR.1SG come-IND=FOC 1PL.INCL+friend
 c^h-wo+ker-i-d=lo. Keɾ kxavr-d=ra...
 2SG-settlement+tell-FUT-IND=Q news NEG-IND=FOC

‘I came to visit. Our friend [says]: “Will you tell about your village?” – “There’s no news...”’ (*Kreinovich Ms.* D536b:13–14v, «Pilan tav jakr...») [ES]

- (37) Kulu-ɾ t^hər-ŋan i-t^həmɾ q^hau-γət-c.
 open_eyes-CVB.NARR.3SG look-CVB.SIM 3SG-polecat NEG-COMPL-IND
 ‘When, opening [his] eyes, he looked, his polecat wasn’t there.’ (lit.
 ‘There was no his polecat.’) (*Panfilov 1965*: 248) [WS]

In the ES variety, there is an alternative way to encode negative existence with the negator *ujye* ‘not be’, which goes back to the nominal/verbal root *ujyi-* ‘[be] a sin’. In the A variety, this item is still used almost exclusively in its original lexical meaning, cf. (38). The negator can be used in the predicative position as it

¹⁵ *kxáu* corresponds to *q^haw-*.

is, cf. (39), or it can function as a verbal stem *ujyi-* taking various types of suffixes, cf. (40).

- (38) Mackə+oʁla-gu huŋrə-ʃ+vo-ʃ **uiy-ʃ=ra.**
 be_small+child-PL be_like_that-NMLZ+take-NMLZ be_sin-IND=FOC
 ‘It’s a sin for small children to take [something] like that.’ (Panfilov 1965: 225) [A]
- (39) Pax=paŋk ʁə+kuʦi **uigé.**
 stone=only door+hole NEG
 ‘There’s no opening for a door [made] of stone.’ (Pilsudski Ms., text 3) [ES]
- (40) Nin+du cʰo sik **ujyi-ʁar-d.**
 1PL.EXCL+lake fish all NEG-COMPL-IND
 ‘There’s no fish in our lake.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 1:12) [ES^N]

The following text passage (41) illustrates various devices for expressing negative existence in the ES variety:

- (41) Əyrəŋəfk mrolv+əŋŋ-ux nud=ziŋ **qavr-ʁar-d.**
 long_time_ago be_ancient+time-ABL what=EMPH NEG-COMPL-IND
 Nud+mif=ciŋ nud+niyʋŋ=ʃiŋ nud=ziŋ moŋka-k
 what+land=EMPH what+man=EMPH what=EMPH be_alive-NMLZ.AGT
qavr-d. Nud+ŋa=ziŋ cʰo=ziŋ **ujyi-d.** Cʰxul cʰaχ=pəŋk.
 NEG-IND what+beast=EMPH fish=EMPH NEG-IND completely water=only
 Tʰas=ciŋ tʰas=ciŋ nud=ziŋ tʰmərmə=ʃiŋ **ujyi-d.**
 where=EMPH where=EMPH what=EMPH move=EMPH NEG-IND
 ‘Long time ago, at ancient times, there was nothing. No land, no man, nothing alive. There were no animals, no fish. Only water. Nowhere, nowhere, there was no one moving.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000/2013: 8) [ES^N]

In the WS variety, existentials can be also negated with the verb *ləyə-* ‘not have’, which is otherwise utilized for possessive negation (§2.3.2) or as a basic negator within a synthetic negative form (§2.1). This verb is usually transitive, but it is not completely clear how it behaves in existential predications. One of the WS speakers notes that, in contrast to the neutral negative verb *qʰaw-*, the verb *ləyə-* brings up a connotation of unexpectedness (= mirativity), cf. (42). It may also have a rather abstract negative meaning, cf. (43):

- (42) Ni məy-t j-ama-ba
 1SG come_down-CVB.NARR.1SG 3SG-look-CVB.IMM
 c^h-mu+ləyə-ta.
 2SG-boat+not_have-EVID.DIR.1SG
 ‘When I came down [to the shore], when [I] looked, your boat wasn’t there (unexpectedly).’ (lit. “there was no your boat”) (Gruzdeva FM2019: 11) [WS]
- (43) Ni morqa-nə-j=lu ləyə-nə-j=lu?
 1SG be_alive-FUT-IND=Q not_have-FUT-IND=Q
 ‘Will I be alive or not?’ (Panfilov 1965: 160–161) [A]

2.3.2 Negation of possessive predication

Possessive clauses (which involve indefinite possesses) are also formed by the existential/possessive verb *jiv*- ‘exist, have’, but it is additionally required to make a reference to the possessor. The structure of a possessive clause depends on the dialectal variety.

In the ES variety, possessive predication is built on the model of a transitive clause, so that the verb *j-iv*- takes the possessee NP as an object: [POSSESSOR NP (subject, unmarked) POSSESSEE NP (object, unmarked) + EXISTENTIAL/POSSESSIVE V (predicate, transitive)]. As a result, the verb drops its initial *j*-, which is typical of Nivkh transitive verbs that bear the 3SG object marker, cf. (44a) and (49a). In colloquial speech, the existential/possessive verb can also be omitted, cf. (45).

- (44) a. Ni c^hχa+iv-d.
 1SG money+exist-IND
 ‘I have money.’
 b. Ni c^hχa+iv-gavr-d.
 1SG money+exist-NEG-IND
 ‘I don’t have money.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 1:42) [ES^N]
- (45) Ni eylɿ+me-nɿ.
 1SG child+two-CLF.HUM
 ‘I have two children.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 1:48) [ES^N]

In the WS and A varieties, the possessive clause employs the same verb *jiv*- ‘exist, have’, but the structure of the clause is different. It is intransitive, maintains the structure of the existential clause and forms a construction of the “Topic

Possessive” type in terms of (Stassen 2009: 58): [POSSESSOR NP (topic, unmarked) POSSESSEE NP (subject, unmarked) EXISTENTIAL/POSSESSIVE V (predicate, intransitive)]. The possessee NP functions as a subject, whereas the possessor NP functions as a topical clause-initial element. The corresponding clause can be literally translated as ‘As for POSSESSOR NP, POSSESSEE NP exists’. The intransitivity of the verb is confirmed by the fact that the verb *jiv-* does not drop its initial *j*, which is illustrated by examples (46) and (47). Alternatively, especially in the modern language, the possessor can be expressed by the locative case, cf. (48), resulting in a construction belonging to Stassen’s “Locational Possessive” type.

- (46) If mu+me-kr jiv-ra.
 3SG boat+two-CLF.GNR exist-EVID.DIR.3SG
 ‘He has two boats.’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 10) [WS]
- (47) T^hayrp^hik oŋla+ŋe-n=pak jiv-ra..
 middle_one child+one-CLF.HUM=only exist-COORD.3SG
 ‘The middle [brother] has one child...’ (Panfilov 1965: 160) [A]
- (48) C^h-ujn c^ho jiv-bara.
 2SG-LOC fish exist-ADVS
 ‘You certainly have fish.’ (Panfilov 1965: 121) [A]

In the ES variety, possessive clause is often negated in adherence to the standard negation strategy by synthesizing the negative verb *ɣavr-* with the existential/possessive verb *j-iv-* cf. (44b) and (49b). The resulting construction is symmetrical to the corresponding affirmative one. Note that this strategy is not used for negating existential clauses.

- (49) a. Xevgun mam+iv-d.
 Xevgun old_woman+exist-IND
 ‘Xevgun has a wife.’
- b. Xevgun mam+iv-ɣavr-d.
 Xevgun old_woman+exist-NEG-IND
 ‘Xevgun doesn’t have a wife.’
- c. Xevgun mam+ɣavr-d.
 Xevgun old_woman+NEG-IND
 ‘Xevgun doesn’t have a wife.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 1:44) [ES^N]

In addition, possessive negation can be rendered by placing the standard negative verb in the predicative position. In the ES variety and occasionally in the WS variety the transitive verb *Ɂavr*-takes the possessee NP as an object, so that the structure of the clause is symmetrical to the affirmative one [POSSESSOR NP (subject, unmarked) POSSESSEE NP (object, unmarked) + NEGATIVE V (predicate, transitive)], cf. (49c), (50), and (51):

- (50) Jaŋ nud=ziŋ+Ɂavr-Ɂar-d.
3SG what=EMPH+NEG-COMPL-IND
'He doesn't have anything.' [ES]
- (51) Hə+həɁs c^hup-xiŋ c^hŋaj+Ɂavr-ɟ.
that+clothing at_all-INS image+NEG-IND
'These clothes don't have any images at all.' (Gruzdeva FM2019: 1) [WS]

In the A and WS varieties, it is the intransitive negative verb *q^haw*- that takes the predicative position in a negative possessive clause, so that the resulting structure is also symmetrical to the affirmative one: [POSSESSOR NP (topic, unmarked) POSSESSEE NP (subject, unmarked) NEGATIVE V (predicate, intransitive)], cf. (52–53). In such constructions, the topical element can also be case-marked with the locative, cf. (54).

- (52) Əyrəkon+ŋivɣ-gu pila+vəŋ q^hau-ɟ.
ancient+man-PL be_big+cauldron NEG-IND
'Ancient people didn't have big cauldrons.' (Panfilov 1965: 160) [A]
- (53) Aŋ=hakisk q^haw-ɟ.
who=EMPH NEG-IND
'There's nobody.' (Gruzdeva FM2019: 2) [WS]
- (54) N-ujn c^ho q^haw-ɟ=ra.
1SG-LOC fish NEG-IND=FOC
'I don't have fish.' (Panfilov 1965: 121) [A]

Alternatively, possessive negation can be rendered by inherently negative possessive verbs. In the ES variety, it is the transitive verb *avli*- 'not have', cf. (55):

- (55) Jaŋ nanq-ɣainapə ŋawɾk+avli-d.
3SG elder_sister-CVB.CONC brain+not_have-IND
'Though she's an elder sister, [she] lacks the brain.' (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:32) [ES^T]

For the same purpose the WS and A varieties use another transitive verb *ləʔə-* ‘not have’, cf. (56). The subject of *ləʔə-* is often followed by the emphatic clitic *=Tə*:

- (56) Ноҕаҕ əkəʃ umgu jiv-ra. Haŋgr toʃ
 then older_brother woman exist-COORD.3SG then middle_brother
 umgu=də+ləʔə-ra.
 woman=EMPH+not_have-COORD.3SG
 ‘Then the older brother had a wife. Then the middle-brother didn’t have a
 wife.’ (Panfilov 1965: 160) [A]

2.3.3 Negation of locative predications

There are several constructions with locative predications that differ by their structure and the verbs used in the predicative position. The first construction is built on the model [LOCATEE NP (subject, unmarked) LOCATIVE NP (marked) LOCATIVE V (predicate)] and comprises the intransitive verb ES *hunv-*, WS/A *hum-* ‘be, live’. The topical clause-initial position is taken by NP indicating the locatee, whereas the referent of locative NP is conceived as a new information. This is the typical pragmatic structure of locative clauses that usually differentiates them from existential ones. However, in Nivkh, this model works rather straightforwardly only for elicited examples, whereas in narratives, the locative clause may have a structure similar to that of the existential one with the locative NP in the clause-initial position: [LOCATIVE NP (marked) LOCATEE NP (subject, unmarked) LOCATIVE V]. Furthermore, in an appropriate context a reference neither to the location nor to the located entity is obligatory. In the ES and WS varieties, the verb *hunv-*, *hum-* can be used only with animate referents, cf. (57–58), whereas in the A variety, *hum-* occurs with any referent irrespective of its animacy/inanimacy, cf. (59). As a predicate of locative clauses, the verb retains its locative meaning, but it has also been completely grammaticalized as a marker of continuative in other contexts, cf. the second verb *hum-* in (58).

- (57) Туҕ+hajmŋaʃ ɲe-ɲɲ=bəʔk tav-ux hunv-d.
 this+old_man one-CLF.HUM=only house-ABL be-IND
 ‘This old man is/lives in the house alone.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 1:76) [ES^N]

- (58) Ni təf-toχ təvba-ŋan aŋ=hakisk ʁavɾ-γəŋ-c.
 1SG house-DAT come_in-CVB.SIM who=EMPH NEG-COMPL-IND
 Umgu-o:la=bə:k hum-ɾ hum-ɟ.
 woman-child=only be-CVB.NARR.3SG be-IND
 ‘When I came into the house, there was nobody [there], only a girl was there.’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 3) [WS]

- (59) Siɟ=agin q^hau-ra paχ+ɲa-qɾ p^hal-uin hum-ra.
 what=EMPH NEG-COORD.3SG stone+one-CLF.GNR floor-LOC be-COORD.3SG
 ‘There’s nothing, there’s only a stone on the floor.’ (Panfilov 1965: 226) [A]

Another locative verb *Xu-* ‘be located [swh.]’ is used in all varieties only with inanimate referents and obligatorily requires a reference to the location. In all varieties, it functions as a transitive verb and takes a locative NP as an object, so that the clause structure is [LOCATEE NP (subject, unmarked) LOCATIVE NP (object, unmarked) + LOCATIVE V], cf. (60–61).

- (60) Pityaŋ ostol+vaj+xu-d.
 book table+under+be_located-IND
 ‘The book is under the table.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 1:18) [ES^N]
- (61) Umgu zu+ɲir-gu tər+t^hxə+xu-ɟ.
 woman wash+bowl-PL table+on+be_located-IND
 ‘The bowls (which) the woman had washed are on the table.’ (Nedjalkov & Otaina 2013: 280) [A]

One more type of locative predications can be formed by the transitive verb *Fi-*¹⁶ ‘be situated (swh.)’, which in all varieties takes a locative NP as an object. The construction with this verb has the structure [LOCATEE NP (subject, unmarked) LOCATIVE NP (object, unmarked) + LOCATIVE V], cf. (62–63).

- (62) Liɣɾ-kun tuŋ+p^hxi+fi-d-yun=la?
 wolf-PL this+forest+be_situated-PL=Q
 ‘Are there wolves in this forest?’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 1:16) [ES^N]

¹⁶The verb *fi-* has the bound variant *-p^hi-*.

- (63) Naf n-umgu t^hama-r təf+p^hi-r
 now 1SG-woman not_do-CVB.NARR.3SG house+be_situated-CVB.NARR.3SG
 o:la-gu+t^hof-c.
 child-PL+take_care-IND
 ‘Now my wife, not doing [anything], staying at home, takes care of
 children.’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 3) [WS]

Locative predications are negated in the ES variety with the transitive negative verb *ɬavr-*, so that the negative construction has the structure symmetrical to the affirmative one [LOCATEE NP (subject, unmarked) LOCATIVE NP (object, unmarked) + NEGATIVE V], cf. (64). This construction is different from the intransitive negative existential one (§2.3.1).

- (64) Mu muspi+ɬavr-d. Mu taf+lef+k^hu-d.
 boat shore+NEG-IND boat house+near+be_located-IND
 ‘The boat is not on the shore. The boat is near the house.’ (Gruzdeva FM2021: Mess.) [ES^T]

In the WS and A varieties, negation of locative predications is built according to the same model as negative existence and is expressed by the intransitive negative verb *q^haw-* ‘not exist’, cf. (65–66):

- (65) Mu co-wx q^haw-ɟ. Mu taf+laya hunɟum-ɟ.
 boat shore-ABL NEG-IND boat house+near be-IND
 ‘The boat is not on the shore. The boat is near the house.’ (Gruzdeva FM2020: Mess.) [WS]
- (66) Vi-ke p^h-ɾəf-tox vi-ra nanak q^hau-ra.
 go-CVB.DUR REFL-house-DAT go-COORD.3SG older_sister NEG-COORD.3SG
 ‘Going for a long time, [he] came to his house, [his] older sister wasn’t there [in the house].’ (lit. “there was no [his] older sister”) (Panfilov 1965: 225) [A]

2.3.4 Equative negation

Equative (or identificational) clauses equate the referents of the subject and the nominal predicate. The predicate of an equative clause is typically a regular noun phrase, which in all varieties takes the focus clitic =*Ta*,¹⁷ cf. (67a) and other examples below. No copula is needed in the non-future indicative, though in the

¹⁷The focus clitic has the variants =*ta*, =*ra*, =*da*.

future the verb *mu-* ‘become’ must be used, cf. (70b). Equative clauses are negated in one of the following ways.

In the ES variety, the predicative position of the negative equative clause is typically occupied by the nominalized form of the negative verb *Ɂavr-*, in which case the negated NP seems to function as its attribute, cf. (67b).

- (67) a. *Tu+ɲiɣvɲ ɲ-χalɲ=da.*
 this+man 1SG-clan=FOC
 ‘This person is my relative.’
 b. *Tu+ɲiɣvɲ ɲ-χalɲ+Ɂavr-k.*
 this+man 1SG-clan+NEG-NMLZ.AGT
 ‘This person is not my relative.’ [Gruzdeva FM2000: 1:23] [ES]

In the A and WS varieties, equative negative predicates are formed by three elements: negated NP, the dative form of the nominalized auxiliary verb *ha-* ‘be / do so’ and the negative verb, which in (68b) occurs in the finite indicative form, which is historically also a nominalization. In example (69), which illustrates the contrastive negation, the negative verb is used in a nominalized form:

- (68) a. *Təʃ ɲ-axmalk=ra.*
 this_one 1SG-father_in_law=FOC
 ‘This one’s my father-in-law.’
 b. *Təʃ ɲ-axmalk ha-to q^haw-j=ra.*
 this_one 1SG-father_in_law do_so-DAT NEG-IND=FOC
 ‘This one’s not my father-in-law.’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 1:11) [WS]
- (69) *Təʃ+ɲivx umgu=da utku ha-dox q^hau-k=ra.*
 this+man woman=FOC man do_so-DAT NEG-NMLZ.AGT=FOC
 ‘This person is a woman, not a man.’ (Panfilov 1965: 158) [A]

As can be seen from the following WS examples, in the future, the negative verb *q^haw-* can synthesize with the verb *mu-* ‘become’. Note that in the resulting form the place of the future marker may vary, cf. (70c) and (70d). Equative clauses seem to be the only type of clauses in which the negative verb *q^haw-* can be used as a part of a synthetic form in a similar way to the verb *Ɂavr-*.

- (70) a. *Təʃ+ɲivx ɲ-axmalk=ra.*
 this+man 1SG-father_in_law=FOC
 ‘This man is my son-in-law.’

- b. Tə+ɲivx ɲ-axmalk mu-nə-ʃ=ra.
 this+man 1SG-father_in_law become-FUT-IND=FOC
 ‘This man will be my father-in-law.’
- c. Tə+ɲivx ɲ-axmalk mu-nə-q^haw-ʃ=ra.
 this+man 1SG-father_in_law become-FUT-NEG-IND=FOC
 ‘This man won’t be my father-in-law.’
- d. Tə+ɲivx ɲ-axmalk mu-q^haw-nə-ʃ=ra.
 this+man 1SG-father_in_law become-NEG-FUT-IND=FOC
 ‘This man won’t be my father-in-law.’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 1:11) [WS]

2.3.5 Ascriptive negation

Ascriptive clauses assign a certain property to the referents of their subjects. The predicate is either a full noun phrase, cf. (71), or a nominalized verb form, cf. (72a). The latter is derived from a verbal stem with the nominalizer *-k*. As with equative clauses, no copula is needed in the non-future. Negation of ascriptive clauses is done in the standard way. In case the predicate of an affirmative equative clause is itself a nominalized verb form, the negative verb ES/WS *ɣavr-* synthesizes with it, cf. (72b). WS and A make use of the standard analytic negative construction, cf. (73).

- (71) Liys umla+ɲa.
 wolf angry+beast
 ‘A wolf is an angry beast.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 1:26) [ES^N]
- (72) a. N-eylɲ mraɲi-k.
 1SG-child be_lazy-NMLZ.AGT
 ‘My child is a lazy one.’
 b. N-eylɲ mraɲi-ɣavr-k.
 1SG-child be_lazy-NEG-NMLZ.AGT
 ‘My child is not a lazy one.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 1:22) [ES^N]
- (73) N-oyla mraɲi-to q^haw-k. If mu-jvi-ʃ.
 1SG-child be_lazy-DAT NEG-NMLZ.AGT 3SG die-PROG-IND
 ‘My child is not lazy, he’s ill.’ (Gruzdeva FM2020: Mess.) [WS]

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In a complex sentence with subordinated clause(s), the main clause typically occurs sentence-finally and is built around a clause-final finite (= independent) form. Subordinate clauses are represented by complement, relative or adverbial clauses.

Complement clauses function as sentential complements to main clauses containing verbs of perception. The predicate of the complement clause is marked by the nominalizer ES *-(n)d/-t*, WS/A *-j/-c*, which synchronically also functions as the indicative marker in the finite verb form. Both clauses have the same structure and can be negated in the same way, cf. (74):

- (74) N-aki-rox jan janʃ p^h-rau-gavr-d+otot-ba
 1SG-older_brother-DAT 3SG why:3SG REFL-study-NEG-IND+ask-CVB.IMM
 jan p^he-kan cafrer-vuʃ it-t.
 3SG REFL-REP be_busy-CVB.REP.1SG say-IND
 ‘When [someone] asks my older brother, why he doesn’t study, he says
 [that] he’s busy.’ (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:18) [ES^N]

Relative clauses are headed by noun-modifying participles and embedded into the main clause. They can also be negated with the standard negators without any restrictions, cf. (75–76):

- (75) Iosif mu+jivʏ-gu+ɲav+pos c^hka-ʏiʃ ʏe-ʃ. Hoqororʃ
 Joseph boat+man-PL+wrap+cloth money-INS take-IND then
 krest-ux Iisus+ʁoc-ʃ pos-kiʃ ɲav-roʃ
 cross-ABL Jesus+take_off-CVB.NARR.3SG cloth-INS wrap-CVB.DIST.3SG
 aʃ=hakisk napa huŋk vaks-ta q^hau+huʃkif+si-ʃ.
 who=EMPH yet there bury-DAT NEG+cave+put-IND
 ‘Joseph bought the cloth in which dead bodies are wrapped, then [he]
 took Jesus’s body off the cross, wrapped [it] in the cloth and put it into
 the cave, where nobody was buried yet.’ (Stories 2017: 156) [WS]
- (76) Pil-də-ləʏə+dəf pal-uin hum-ʃ.
 be_big-EMPH-not_have+house forest_hill-LOC be-IND
 ‘A small house is situated on the forest hill.’ (Panfilov 1965: 160) [A]

Adverbial clauses are formed by converbs (= dependent forms) of different origin and are arranged in chains which end with the main clause. Converbs

render various interclausal relations, with the finest differentiation within the temporal ones.

Nivkh has a special negative purposive converb in ES *-lakrŕ/-lakrt*, WS/A *-lakrr/-lakrt* with a complex marker which consists of the bound form of the lexical verb ES *lakr-*, WS/A *lakr-* ‘fear’ and the suffix of the narrative converb ES *-r* : *-t*, WS/A *-r* : *-t*. The converb agrees in person and number not with its own subject, but rather with the subject of the finite (= independent) verb, following the pattern in Table 2, cf. (77) and (78):

- (77) Qan-gu vi-jnə-ləkrt ni t^hu+zeqaw-ʃ.
dog-PL go-DES-CVB.NEG_PURP.1SG 1SG sledge+fasten-IND
'I fasten the sledges, so that the dogs wouldn't go away.' (Gruzdeva
FM2019: 1:21) [WS]
- (78) a. Ni e-f-t ɾorvi-ʃ=ra o:la-gu
1SG 3SG-take-CVB.NARR.1SG carry_away-IND=FOC child-PL
ra-i-ləkrt.
drink-EP-CVB.NEG_PURP.1SG
'Taking it, I carried [the medicine] away so that the children wouldn't
drink [it].'
b. If e-v-r ɾorvi-ʃ=ra o:la-gu
3SG 3SG-take-CVB.NARR.3SG carry_away-IND=FOC child-PL
ra-i-ləkrr.
drink-EP-CVB.NEG.PURP.3SG
'Taking it, he carried [the medicine] away so that the children
wouldn't drink [it].' (*Kreinovich 1979*: 321) [A]

All other converbs are negated according to the standard negation strategies used in one or another variety, cf. narrative converbs in (79–82), a simultaneous/anterior verb in (83), and conditional converbs in (84–85):

- (79) Jan p^hrə-ŋa janɾpəɾklu j-**uŋ**-gavr-ɾ
 3SG come-CVB.SIM for_some_reason 3SG-come_in-NEG-CVB.NARR.3SG
 rə+or+p^hi-ɾ kəp-ɾ hunv-nd.
 door+edge+be_situated-CVB.NARR.3SG stand-CVB.NARR.3SG be-IND
 ‘When he came, for some reason not coming in, [he] stands at the
 threshold.’ (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:13), [ES^T]

- (80) Slovar-ux mer+dif-ku mək-r-da q^haw-gu-t
 dictionary-ABL 1PL.INCL+word-PL be_right-DAT NEG-CAUS-CVB.NARR.3PL
 raju-j-yu.¹⁸
 write-IND-PL
 ‘In the dictionary, [they] wrote our words wrong.’ (Jushkina 2019) [A]
- (81) Məx-ke i-ndə-ləyə-r
 come_down-CVB.DUR 3SG-look-not_have-CVB.NARR.3SG
 məy-r i-conr-tox pol-ra
 come_down-CVB.NARR.3SG 3SG-head-DAT fall_down-COORD.3SG
 mulk cosq-xət-ra.
 birch_bark_basket break-COMPL-COORD.3SG
 ‘When [he] was coming down, [he] didn’t look [around], [he] fell down
 on his head, the birch basket broke.’ (Panfilov 1965: 227) [A]
- (82) To-jrucez-r p^her-r q^ho-j.
 cry-be_unable-CVB.NARR.3SG be_tired-CVB.NARR.3SG sleep-IND
 ‘Not being able to cry [anymore], being tired, [he] fell asleep.’ (Panfilov
 1965: 248) [WS]
- (83) N-ətk cik p^hrə-ŋ-gavr-ŋa sikm
 1SG-father for_a_long_time come-NMLZ-NEG-CVB.SIM all
 xurŋuftu-d-yun.
 worry-IND-PL
 ‘When my father didn’t come for a long time, everyone worried.’
 (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:14) [ES^N]
- (84) C^hi tə+jus+pi-də-ləyə-ɬaj c^hi-y-nə-j=ra.
 2SG this+meat+eat-EMPH-not_have-CVB.COND 2SG-kill-FUT-IND=FOC
 ‘If you don’t eat this meat, [I]’ll kill you.’ (Panfilov 1965: 229) [A]
- (85) Məkr-gut nivɣjif+raju-da q^haw-ɬa
 correctly:3PL Nivkh_language+write-DAT NEG-CVB.COND
 mək-r-la+nivɣjif+bəkz-nə-j=ra.
 be_correct-QUAL+Nivkh_language+lose-FUT-IND=FOC
 ‘If [they] doesn’t write correctly in Nivkh, [they]’ll lose Nivkh. (Jushkina
 2019: 227) [A]

¹⁸The sentence can be literally translated as ‘In the dictionary, our words making wrong, [they] write.’

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

There is a whole inventory of lexical/lexicalized negative verbs, some of which have been already discussed in connection with stative predications (§2.3). Here we will examine negative verbs and some other lexemes that denote lack of desire, knowledge, attraction, physical ability, as well as some other negative meanings. Most of them fall in line with what Zeshan (2004) and Veselinova (2013a) identified for sign and spoken languages, respectively. The inherently negative verbs often (but not always) form semantic pairs with their positive counterparts. They do not require any explicit negators but in some exceptional cases can combine with them. In general, using a standard negator with an inherently negative lexeme is perceived by the speakers as ungrammatical. Some of the lexicalized negative verbs can be used both independently and as a part of the synthetic negative form, whereas the others are synchronically attested only in synthetic negative forms. In the latter case, the root of a lexicalized modal negative verb synthesizes with the root of a lexical verb. The resulting forms behave as a single verb and can be used both in finite and non-finite functions. Synthetic modal negative forms express two meanings: non-desire and non-ability.

2.5.1 Non-desire

Desire vs. non-desire is indicated by the pair of verbs ES *j-ayni*, cf. (86), WS/A *j-ayn-*, cf. (87), ‘want’ vs. ES *ayu-*, WS/A *ayi-* ‘not want’. In ES, the negative verb *ayu-* displays variation with respect to transitivity. This can be illustrated by example (88), where it occurs as a predicate of the main clause with a dislocated complement clause, and example (89), where it takes an oblique verbal complement formed by the locative nominalizer *-f* and the dative suffix. These negative verbs are often used in the beginning of imperative (hortative, jussive) sentences in the form of a bare stem ES *ayo*, cf. (90), and WS/A *ayi*, cf. (91), or in the imperative form, cf. (92) and *ay-ja* [not_want-IMP.2SG] with the meaning ‘Don’t do it!’, which is close to the prohibitive meaning (2.2.1). In the WS and A varieties, the corresponding verb *ayi-* is always transitive and takes a verbal complement derived by the nominalizer *-j/-c*, cf. (93). In all attested WS examples, the verbal complement contains the future suffix. Panfilov (1965: 163) notes that the verb *ayi-* is used rather rarely.

- (86) C^{hi} p^h-əmk-aχ qo-ŋ-gavr-gu-jn-ayni-ɣaj
 2SG REFL-mother-ACC be_sick-NMLZ-NEG-CAUS-DES-want-CVB.COND
 jaŋ-aχ oχt+ra-gu-ja.
 3SG-ACC medicine+drink-CAUS-IMP.2SG
 ‘If you want your mother not to be sick, make her drink the medicine.’
 (Gruzdeva FM2000: 4:152) [ES^T]
- (87) C^{hi} siʃ+ayp-j=ŋa?
 2SG what+want-IND=Q
 ‘What do you want?’ (Saveljeva & Taksami 1970: 494) [A]
- (88) Ni ayu-d=ra nin nud+xeraj-d-yun jaŋ-aχ
 1SG not_want-IND=FOC 1PL.EXCL what+say-IND-PL 3SG-ACC
 j-ajm-gavr-gu-jnə-d.
 3SG-know-NEG-CAUS-DES-NMLZ
 ‘I don’t want him to know what we said.’ (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:10a) [ES^T]
- (89) Ni vi-jnə-f-toχ ayu-d.
 1SG go-DES-NMLZ.LOC-DAT not_want-IND
 ‘I don’t want to go.’ (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:23, 193) [ES^T]
- (90) Huŋ+uniɾk it-t. ayo jan ətk+χa-jnə-d...
 that+cannibal say-IND not_want why.2SG father+shoot-DES-IND
 ‘This cannibal says: “Don’t do [that]! Why are you going to shoot at the father...”’ (Kreinovich Ms. D824:12v–15, «Indən. T^həlgur») (an adaptation of an old text into modern ES by G. I. Paklina) [ES]
- (91) Əyi huk-toχ vi-to q^haw-ja.
 not_want there-DAT go-DAT NEG-IMP.2SG
 ‘Don’t do that! Don’t go there!’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 1:24) [WS]
- (92) Nirəvun-kun polax-ŋa. axgu-ja
 man-PL cry-CVB.SIM not_want-IMP.2SG
 iz^jn+aprej-kun+var-kov-r morxov-ja.
 3PL+wife-PL+rot-NEG-CVB.NARR.2SG be_alive-IMP.2SG
 ‘People crying: “Don’t do [that]! Leave their wives alive!”’ (Kreinovich Ms. D824:12v–15, «Indən. Təlgund») [ES]

- (93) Хоҥоҥан j-acik
 then 3SG-younger_brother
 i-n-nə-j=ri+əyi-j=ra.
 3SG-eat-FUT-NMLZ=EMPH+not_want-IND=FOC
 ‘Then her younger brother didn’t want to eat.’ (Panfilov 1965: 163) [WS]

In all varieties, there is also another lexicalized intransitive negative verb *ker-* with a slightly different meaning ‘not want, refuse’. Due to scarcity of examples of its use, the syntactic behavior of *ker-* is not completely clear. Thus, in ES example (94), *ker-d=ra* behaves as the predicate of a separate clause, whereas in A example (95), *ker-j* takes oblique complements in the dative case:

- (94) Ni c^hi+lu-d ker-d=ra.
 1SG 2SG+sing-NMLZ/IND not_want-IND=FOC
 ‘I don’t want you to sing.’ (Kreinovich Ms. D824:12v–15, «Indən. T^həlguṛ») (an adaptation of an old text into modern ES by G. I. Paklina) [ES]
- (95) Ni c^hax+ta-inə-dox ker-j.
 1SG water+drink-DES-DAT not_want-IND
 ‘I don’t want to drink water.’ (Panfilov 1965: 162) [A]

The corresponding transitive form of *ker-* would be *yer-*, which, however, is not attested in its free form, but which must be the source of the bound root *-ger-* with a similar meaning. The latter is used in a synthetic modal negative form in which *-ger-* is synthesized with a nominalized lexical verb, as in *it-ŋ-ger-d* ‘refused to say’, cf. (96). This construction forms a parallel to the basic synthetic forms with the verb *ɣavr-* (see 2.1.1). In the A variety, the root of the negative verb is often preceded by the epenthetic vowel /i/, cf. (97), or by an emphatic element *-Ci*¹⁹ or *-Ta*, cf. (98).

- (96) Ja-mam j-otot-χajnapə jaŋ
 3SG-old_woman 3SG-ask-CVB.CONC 3SG
 nud=ziŋ+it-ŋ-ger-d.
 what=EMPH+say-NMLZ-not_want-IND
 ‘Though his wife asked [him], he refused to say anything.’ (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:33:274) [ES^T]

¹⁹This emphatic element has the variants *-ci*, *-zi*, *-ji*.

- (97) K^he vər̥k-ku-i-ger-t
 fishing_net be_spoiled-CAUS-EP-not_want-CVB.NARR.3PL
 se-u-t^ha-ʃ.
 dry-TR-ITER.3PL-IND
 ‘(They) dry fishing nets (because they) don’t want to spoil them.’
 (Panfilov 1965: 162) [A]
- (98) Hemaɲax ɲ-ax k^hrəu-gu-ʃi-ger-ʃ=ra.
 old_woman 1SG-ACC rest-CAUS-EMPH-not_want-IND=FOC
 ‘The old woman doesn’t want to let me rest.’ (Panfilov 1965: 162) [A]

A similar meaning of non-desire is expressed in the A variety by the synchronically bound verb *-mol(o)-*, cf. (99):

- (99) V-aɲχ j-oc-Ɂar ici-mol-ra.
 3SG-wife 3SG-ask-CVB.SBJV answer-not_want-EVID.DIR
 ‘Though his wife asked, (he) didn’t want to answer.’ (Panfilov 1965: 162)
 [A]

2.5.2 Non-knowledgeability

Knowledgeability versus non-knowledgeability is most commonly expressed by the pair of transitive verbs ES *j-ajm-*, cf. (100), WS/A *j-ajm-/həjm-* ‘know [sb./sth.]’, cf. (101), vs. ES *j-ayzu-*, cf. (102), WS *j-ayzə-*, A *j-ayzu-*, cf. (103), ‘not know [sb./sth.]’. The negative verb obviously gave rise to the negative habitual suffix *-Ksu* (see §2.1.3). The verbs take either a nominal, cf. (103) or a clausal complement, cf. (104). The WS folklore texts demonstrate that the corresponding lexical meaning can be expressed by a bare verb stem, which retains its transitivity feature, cf. *ayzu* in (104).

- (100) Niyvɲ-gun j-ajm-d-ɣun t^həl̥v-ux u-xmu-d-ɣun.
 man-PL 3SG-know-IND-PL far_away-ABL RECP-fight-NMLZ-PL
 ‘People knew [that] [they] fought far away.’ (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:2)
 [ES^N]
- (101) Nuknuko c^h-o:la paɲd-r pil-ɲan
 stop 2SG-child grow_up-CVB.NARR.3SG be_big-CVB.SIM
 c^hi+həjm-ʃ=ra.
 2SG+know-IND=FOC
 ‘Wait, when your child growing up will become big, [he]’ll get to know you.’ (Panfilov 1965: 228) [A]

- (102) Ni j-ayzu-d=ra jaŋ hotoŋ-ux nud+ɣxop-d=lo.
 1SG 3SG-not_know-IND=FOC 3SG city-ABL what+do-NMLZ=Q
 ‘I don’t know what he is doing in the city.’ (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:2a) [ES^T]
- (103) Hə+ɲivx p^h-oɣla+ayzu-ɣət-ra oɣla
 that+man REFL-child+not_know-COMPL-COORD.3SG child
 p^h-ətək+ayzu-ɣət-ra.
 REFL-father+not_know-COMPL-COORD.3SG
 ‘This man doesn’t know his son at all. The child doesn’t know his father at all.’ (Panfilov 1965: 161) [WS]
- (104) Lumɣ+c^həuɣ i-z-nə-j+ayzu.
 sable+take_out 3SG-skin-FUT-NMLZ+not_know
 ‘Taking out a sable [from a trap], [he] doesn’t know how to skin it.’
 (Panfilov 1965: 248) [WS]

The ES variety has yet another negative verb *qobr-* ‘not know’, which appears rarely, though it is attested in several elicited examples, cf. (105):

- (105) N=at qobr-d=ra naf t^hak-toχ vi-j-d=lo.
 1SG=FOC not_know-IND=FOC now where-DAT go-FUT-NMLZ=Q
 ‘I don’t know where to go now.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 4:118) [ES^T]

The verb WS *laja-*, A *laji*-²⁰, whose meaning also refers to the sphere of non-knowledgeability, implies less categorical negation and rather infers doubt than a complete lack of knowledge, cf. (106):

- (106) T^hajbo-ra laja-j=ra.
 not_know-EVID.DIR doubt-IND=FOC
 ‘[I] don’t know, [I] doubt.’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 4) [WS]

Additionally, there is a negative verb ES, A *t^hajbo-* ‘not know’ (which can appear in the form *t^haj*). It is typically used as a one-word clause either in a sentence-final, cf. (107), or sentence-initial position, cf. (106) and (108). In the latter case it is typically used in a direct evidential form and is followed by another more explicit negative clause, or alone as an answer to a question.

²⁰The negative verb A *laji-* ‘not know’ is mentioned only in Panfilov (1965: 161) without any examples.

- (107) P^hi t^hanx vəkz-d=zin t^hajxo-Ɂar-d=la?
REFL where lose-NMLZ=EMPH not_know-COMPL-IND=Q
‘Don’t you know at all where you lost [it]?’ (FM2000: 5:60) [ES^N]
- (108) T^hajxo-ŋra jaŋ p^h-ət+k+voci-d=lu.
not_know-EVID.DIR 3SG REFL-father+resemble-IND=Q
‘I don’t know [if] he resembles his father.’ (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:10) [ES^N]

The word A *p^hanpara* is a bare stem of the verb, which is often translated as ‘not know’ or ‘not understand’. It seems to be impossible to find any examples of its use in the inflected form, besides a dictionary entry in (Saveljeva & Taksami 1970: 282), where it is represented in the indicative form *p^hanpara-j*. In all attested examples, the verb occurs sentence-finally and behaves as an extra-sentence one-word clause, cf. (109–110):

- (109) Hoŋguɾ ɾak-tox vi-ʃ=lu p^hanpara.
thus.3SG where-DAT go-IND=Q not_know
‘Thus, [he] doesn’t know where to go.’ (Panfilov 1965: 244) [WS]
- (110) I-z-nə-ʃ+əyzu jaŋgu-nə-ʃ p^hanpara.
3SG-skin-FUT-NMLZ+not_know how_do-FUT-IND not_know
‘[He] doesn’t know how to skin [it], doesn’t know how to do it.’
(Panfilov 1965: 248) [WS]

2.5.3 Non-attraction

Attraction vs. non-attraction is expressed in all varieties by the pair of transitive verbs *e-zmu-* ‘like’, cf. (111), vs. *e-sqa-* ‘not like’, cf. (112):

- (111) Andɣ-kun p^hrə-ba ɲi e-zmu-t^ha-ʃ.
guest-PL come-CVB.IMM 1SG 3SG-like-ITER.1SG-IND
‘I like when the guests come.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 4:122) [ES^T]
- (112) C^hi e-sqa-Ɂaj ɲi=pəɾk i-ɲ-i-d=ra.
2SG 3SG-not_like-CVB.COND 1SG=only 3SG-eat-FUT-IND=FOC
‘If you don’t want to eat, I’ll eat myself.’ (Kreinovich Ms. D824:12v–15,
«Indən. T^həlguɾ») (an adaptation of an old text into modern ES by G. I. Paklina) [ES]

2.5.4 Non-ability

Negative lexicalized verbs that covertly express the meaning of non-ability can be used independently only in the Amur varieties. The verb A *j-iki-* ‘be unable’ is also used predominantly in the bound form, but there are still a few examples of its independent use, cf. (113). When synthesizing with the lexical verb, *j-iki-* loses the initial *j* which marks transitivity, cf. (114):²¹

- (113) Ola ni p^her-j=ra. C^he-rka j-iki-j=ra.
son.VOC 1SG be_tired-IND=FOC 2SG-DEST 3SG-be_unable-IND=FOC
‘Son! I’m tired. I can’t cope with you.’ (Panfilov 1965: 225) [A]
- (114) Hə+baχ per-ka ni xici-j-iki-nə-j=ra.
that+stone be_heavy-CVB.COND 1SG lift-EP-be_unable-FUT-IND=FOC
‘If this stone is heavy, I won’t be able to lift it.’ (Panfilov 1965: 162) [A]

The verb ES/A *j-ali-* with a similar meaning is, on the contrary, used only as a full free transitive verb, cf. (115), which can take a clausal complement, cf. (116).

- (115) Ketv-r t^həŋrəŋa-j. Hoŋke j-ali-j.
stick-CVB.NARR.3SG not_move-IND so 3SG-be_unable-IND
‘Having stuck [it] doesn’t move. So [he] wasn’t able [to move] it.’
(Panfilov 1965: 226) [A]
- (116) If toŋa+mu+lət-c+ali-j.
3SG be_like_this+boat+make-NMLZ+be_unable-IND
‘He wasn’t able to make such a boat.’ (Saveljeva & Taksami 1970: 497) [A]

In the ES variety, the meaning of non-ability can be expressed by synthetic negative forms with the bound form of the verb *-rer-* ‘be unable’, cf. (117). This verb has an intransitive counterpart *ter-* with the meaning ‘be weak’.

- (117) Urgur q^ho-jnə-ŋa q^ho-rer-d.
well.3SG sleep-DES-CVB.SIM sleep-be_unable-IND
‘When [she] wanted to sleep well, [she] couldn’t sleep.’ (Gruzdeva
FM1991: 3:14a) [ES^T]

A similar meaning ‘not achieve’ is rendered by the synchronically bound element ES *-(i)roter-*, A *-(i)rucez-*. This marker goes back to the converb suffix *-iro* marking an interrupted action and the modal verb ES *ter-*, A *cez-* ‘be weak’ (Panfilov 1965: 163), cf. (118–119):

²¹The *j* seen in this example is an epenthesis and not the 3sg marker.

(118) **Tlo-jroter-t.**

run-not_achieve-IND

‘[He] couldn’t run.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 4:13) [ES^T]

(119) K^hlə-rx p^hu-r vuu-ʃ. **Vuu-rucez-ʃ=ra.**

outside-DAT go_out-CVB.NARR.3SG cry-IND cry-not_achieve-IND=FOC

‘Going out (he) shouted. (He) didn’t get the answer.’ (Panfilov 1965: 163) [A]

2.5.5 Other negative lexicalizations

The motion intransitive negative verb A *t^həŋrəŋa-* ‘not move’ has been exemplified by (115).

The verb ES *amtrer-*, A *amcez-* has the meaning ‘not have time, be late’ and is possibly connected, again, with the modal verb ES *ter-*, A *cez-* ‘be weak’ (Panfilov 1965: 163), cf. (120):

(120) Нокаҗан hə+ɲivɣ+erq-ux oz-r q^haχ-kir
then that+man+side-ABL get_up-CVB.NARR.3SG spear-INS
e-sp-inə-ke **amcez-ʃ.**

3SG-stab-DES-CVB.DUR not_have_time-IND

‘When that man getting up wanted to stab him with a spear, [he] didn’t have time.’ (Panfilov 1965: 163) [A]

One should also mention the WS/A pair *naw-* ‘be enough’, cf. (121), and *roj-* ‘not be enough’, cf. (122):

(121) Ni c^hχa+vo-ʃ. Ne-rχ **naw-ʃ.**

1SG money+get-IND 1SG-DAT be_enough-IND

‘I got money. I have enough.’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 1:7) [WS]

(122) Jeski-ŋan maɲʃu əs **roi-ʃ.** Uski
sell-CVB.SIM Chinese money not_be_enough-IND payment
roi-ʃ.

not_be_enough-IND

‘When [he] was selling, the Chinese didn’t have enough money. [There] was not enough payment. (Panfilov 1965: 250) [WS]

There are also verbs ES *j-akru-*, A *j-əkru-* ‘not believe’, cf. (123), and ES *j-axraw-* ‘not trust’, cf. (124):

- (123) Ni p^hi-də-gavr-χaj ena-gun+akru-j-d.
 1SG REFL-see-NEG-CVB.COND be_another-PL+not_believe-FUT-IND
 ‘If I hadn’t seen myself, I wouldn’t believe the others.’ (Gruzdeva
 FM2000: 4:18) [ES^T]
- (124) Ni c^h-axraw-d=ra.
 1SG 2SG-not_trust-IND=FOC
 ‘I don’t trust you.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 4:43) [ES^T]

3 Non-clausal negation

This section deals with negative replies (§3.1), negative emphatics and indefinites (§3.2), and the ways of expressing caritive semantics and antonymic low-level negation (§3.3).

3.1 Negative replies

In negative replies to polar questions, *q^hawk* or *q^hawkra* ‘no’ is used as the negative counterpart to *hə* or *həŋa* ‘yes’. The same negative word is used as a reaction to some proposal or in another appropriate context, cf. (125–127), but it cannot be used as a reply to content questions. Interestingly, this negative reply, which represents a nominalized form of the negative verb *q^haw-*, is used in all Nivkh varieties, including those in which the negative verb is used only in the form of *qavr-*. Most likely, it has been a secondary borrowing from A varieties to the Sakhalin ones. As a result of monophthongization, in the WS variety, this word is currently pronounced as *qa:k*. Besides the neutral focus clitic =*ra*, it can attach the emphatic focus clitic =*rej*, as in (127) in which one speaker quotes two other people. As one can see, Nivkh follows the general tendency to use a negative existential marker as a standalone negative answer (Veselinova 2013b)

- (125) Q: C^hi p^h-romsk c^hχa+ro-l?
 2SG REFL-together money+carry-Q
 ‘Do you have money on you?’
- A: Q^haw-k.
 NEG-NMLZ.AGT
 ‘No.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 1:43) [ES^N]

- (126) Но́ваҗан if it-c. Q^hau-k=ra ni c^həŋ-doχ
 then 3SG say-IND NEG-NMLZ.AGT=FOC 1SG 2PL-DAT
 ler-inə-t p^hrə-ʃ=ra.
 play-DES-CVB.NARR.1SG come-IND=FOC
 ‘Then he said: “No, I came to compete with you.”’ (Panfilov 1965: 229) [A]
- (127) Хаҗа naf as^ʃxa җамгур it-nd. Hala vi-nate.
 then now younger_brother tit say-IND well go-IMP.1DU
 ‘Then the younger brother tit said: Well, let’s go!’
- Kau-k=rej[,] ni ʃas-to vi-i-ra[,] tund
 NEG-NMLZ.AGT=FOC_EMPH 1SG where-DAT go-FUT-EVID.DIR this_one
 ʃ-raf=ta[,]
 1SG-house=FOC
 ‘[The bird-woman said:] No, I won’t go anywhere. This is my house.’
- Vi-i-nd+agu-kaʃ ni c^h-xe-i-nd=ra.
 go-FUT-NMLZ+not_want-CVB.COND 1SG 2SG-take-FUT-IND=FOC
 ‘[The younger brother said:] If [you] don’t want to go, I’ll take you.’
- Kau-k=ra[,] təŋ+keŋ morxa-ra[,] loŋ
 NEG-NMLZ.AGT=FOC this+sun be_alive-COORD.3SG moon
 morxa-ra[,] ni vi-n-tox kau-k=ra[,] Ni
 be_alive-COORD.3SG 1SG go-NMLZ-DAT NEG-NMLZ.AGT=FOC 1SG
 əziŋ+iv-nd=ra[,]
 master+exist-IND=FOC
 ‘No, this sun is alive, the moon is alive, I won’t go. I have a master,’
- Ni cangi+iv-nd=ra[,] aʃzi-ŋ+c^hevr^ʁkx+ʃanx it-nd.
 1SG boss+exist-IND=FOC be_golden-NMLZ+bird+woman say-IND
 ‘I have a boss, the golden bird-woman said.’ (Kreinovich Ms.
 D540:7–15+22–24v, «Nuyə k^hen ɲaqr... [1]») [ES]

3.2 Negative indefinites

Nivkh does not have inherently negative proforms, since those proforms which are used in the scope of negation may also occur in non-negative contexts. In all varieties, they are based on interrogatives, but rely on different clitics that are attached to the derivational base.

In the ES variety, proforms which are used in negative predications are essentially emphatics, cf. (128), and are formed from interrogatives with the emphatic

clitic =*Ciŋ*, which is otherwise used for reinforcing negation (§4.4), cf. *naŋ* ‘who’ > *naŋ=ciŋ* ‘who (exactly), nobody’, cf. (129), *t^hawd* ‘which one’ > *t^hawd=ziŋ* ‘which one (exactly), no-one’, cf. (130), *nud* ‘what’ > *nud=ziŋ* ‘what (exactly), nothing’, cf. (131), *t^hanx* ‘where (non-precisely)’ > *t^hanx=ciŋ* ‘where (non-precisely, exactly), nowhere’, cf. (132), *t^has* ‘where (precisely)’ > *t^has=ciŋ* ‘where (precisely, exactly), nowhere’, cf. (41), ES^T *aŋŋ*, ES^N *əŋŋ* ‘when’ > ES^T *aŋŋ=ciŋ*, cf. (133), ES^N *əŋŋ=ciŋ*, cf. (134), ‘when (exactly), never’, *t^hans* ‘how many’ > *t^hans=ciŋ* ‘how many (exactly), none’, etc. All inflectional markers that are taken by a proform come before the emphatic clitic.

- (128) It-ja **aŋŋ=ciŋ** p^hŋə-j-d.
 say-IMP.2SG when=EMPH come-FUT-IND
 ‘Tell [me], when [exactly] you’ll come.’ [ES]
- (129) Tu+daf **naŋ=ciŋ+iv-gavr-d**.
 this+house who=EMPH+exist-NEG-IND
 ‘There’s nobody in this house.’ (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:9) [ES^T]
- (130) Toqroq-ŋ-gavr-ve. Sikm oz-ŋar-d-ŋun=da. C^hin
 sneak_up-NMLZ-NEG-IMP.2PL all get_up-COMPL-IND-PL=FOC 2PL
t^hawd=ziŋ+oz-u-gavr-i-d-ŋun=da.
 which=EMPH+get_up-TR-NEG-FUT-IND-PL=FOC
 ‘Don’t sneak up! Everyone [has] got up. You won’t wake up anyone.’
 (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:40) [ES^T]
- (131) **Nud=ziŋ** huŋ+vo-wx **uŋyi-d**.
 what=EMPH that+settlement-ABL not_be-IND
 ‘There was nothing in that village.’ (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:43:360) [ES^T]
- (132) Huz urla-ŋ+iv-v-ux c^ho-ŋun qavr-χaj
 that_place be_good-NMLZ+exist-NMLZ.LOC-ABL fish-PL NEG-CVB.COND
t^hanx=ciŋ qavr-χar-i-d.
 where=EMPH NEG-COMPL-FUT-IND
 ‘If there’s no fish in this good place, there’ll be no [fish] anywhere.’
 (Gruzdeva FM2000: 4:98) [ES^T]

- (133) Nin exkun hoton-dox vi-j-ɣaj ni aɣɣ=ciŋ
 1PL.EXCL soon city-DAT go-FUT-CVB.COND 1SG when=EMPH
 huŋ+ɣaŋgeɐlŋ+ɣɣə-gavr-i-d.
 that+girl+see-NEG-FUT-IND
 ‘If we soon go to the city, I’ll never see that girl.’ (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:1a)
 [ES^T]

- (134) Naɣ=ciŋ əɣɣ=ciŋ ɲ-zaxo-gavr-i-d.
 who=EMPH when=EMPH 1SG-deceive-NEG-FUT-IND
 ‘Nobody never will deceive me.’ (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:13) [ES^N]

In other varieties, proforms which are used in negative predications have the same form as free-choice indefinites, cf. (135). Free-choice indefinites are themselves derivations from interrogatives. The corresponding interrogative attaches the zero-nominalized form of the auxiliary verb *ha-* in the instrumental case. The initial fricative of the auxiliary can be omitted, and the resulting form depends on the shape of the instrumental suffix, which is used in one or another variety, cf. WS/A *aŋ* ‘who’ > WS *aŋ=ha-kisk/-gisk/-kirk*, A *aŋ=ha-gin/-girn* ‘anybody, everybody, nobody’, cf. (136), WS/A *ɣaɣ* ‘which one’ > WS *ɣaɣ=ha-kisk/-gisk/-kirk*, A *ɣaɣ=ha-gin/-girn* ‘anybody, everyone, no-one’, cf. (137), WS/A *siɣ* ‘what’ > WS *siɣ=ha-kisk/-gisk/-kirk*, A *siɣ=ha-gin/-girn* ‘anything, everything, nothing’, cf. (138), WS/A *ɣatx* ‘where’ > WS *ɣatx=ha-kisk/-gisk/-kirk*, A *ɣatx=ha-gin/-girn* ‘anywhere, everywhere, nowhere’, cf. (139), WS/A *əɣɣ* ‘when’ > WS *əɣɣ=ha-kisk/-gisk/-kirk*, A *əɣɣ=ha-gin/-girn* ‘whenever, never’, cf. (140), WS/A *ɣaŋs* ‘how many’ > WS *ɣaŋs=ha-kisk/-gisk/-kirk*, A *ɣaŋs=ha-gin/-girn* ‘however many, none’, cf. (141), etc. All inflectional markers come before the clitic, cf. *ɣak-tox=hagirn* ‘to nowhere’. The elements WS *=ha-kisk/-gisk/-kirk*, A *=ha-gin/-girn* can be attached to other nominals to reinforce negation (§4.4).

- (135) Chⁱ aŋ=hakisk+oz-u-toɣ q^haw-nə-ɣ=ra.
 2SG who=EMPH+get_up-TR-DAT NEG-FUT-IND=FOC
 ‘You won’t wake up anyone.’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 1:7) [WS]

- (136) Təɣ aŋ=hagin lət-nə-ɣavr-ɣ.
 this_one who=EMPH do-FUT-NEG-IND
 ‘Nobody will do this.’ (Panfilov 1965: 165) [A]

- (137) Imŋ-ux ɣaj=hagin togut nə-nə-xavr-ʃ.
 3PL-ABL which=EMPH in_such_way:3PL do-FUT-NEG-IND
 ‘None of them will do so.’ (Saveljeva & Taksami 1970: 319) [A]
- (138) Siʃ=akirk ivŋ+ar-xsu-ʃ.
 what=EMPH 3PL+feed-HAB_NEG-IND
 ‘They don’t feed them with anything.’ (Panfilov 1965: 247) [WS]
- (139) Ni ɣatx=hagin vi-nə-xavr-ʃ=ra.
 1SG where=EMPH go-FUT-NEG-IND=FOC
 ‘I won’t go anywhere.’ (Saveljeva & Taksami 1970: 321) [A]
- (140) Ni əyr=hakisk vi-nə-xavr-ʃ.
 1SG when=EMPH go-FUT-NEG-IND
 ‘I’ll never go [there].’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 7) [WS]
- (141) Raŋs=hagin+c^hχa q^hau-ʃ.
 how_many=EMPH+money NEG-IND
 ‘There’s no money.’ (Saveljeva & Taksami 1970: 320) [A]

In the early-20th-century folklore texts recorded by Kreinovich from presumably ES speakers, one can find proforms that are derived according to the WS and A model, cf. *rund* ‘what’ > *rund=ha-n-kir* [what=do_so-NMLZ-INS] ‘anything, everything, nothing’ in (142), *əyr* ‘when’ > *əgr=a-n-kis^ʃk* [when=do_so-NMLZ-INS] ‘whenever, never’ in (143).

- (142) Ni rund=hankir it-n-tox kau-k=ra.
 1SG what=EMPH say-NMLZ-DAT NEG-NMLZ.AGT=FOC
 ‘I can’t say anything.’ (Kreinovich Ms. D536b:13–14v, «Pilan tav pakr...») [ES]
- (143) Əgr=ankis^ʃk i-ndə-n+xavr-n+ɲigəvən-kun xavru.
 when=EMPH 3SG-see-NMLZ+NEG-NMLZ+man-PL NEG
 ‘We never saw people.’²² (Kreinovich Ms. D546:21–22, «Təlgund [6]») [ES]

²²This sentence can be literally translated as ‘Never people [that] we didn’t see [there] were not.’

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking (caritives/privatives)

Nivkh does not have any special nominal cases for indicating absence or non-involvement (caritive). The major strategies for expressing caritive semantics are similar to those of predicative possessive negation (§2.3.2). In the ES and WS varieties, the caritive meaning is rendered by a dependent narrative clause with the converb or nominalized form of the transitive negative verb *ɬavr-* as a predicate, preceded by an (unmarked object) NP expressing the absentee. Such a clause is often used either in sentence-initial topical position, as in (144), as an adverbial or depictive clause, as in (145) and (146), or attributively, as in (147).

- (144) $\text{\textcircled{a}t\text{\textcircled{k}}+vavr-\text{\textcircled{r}}}$ $\text{ni=p\text{\textcircled{a}}rk mu+aj-gavr-i-d.}$
 father+NEG-CVB.NARR.3SG 1SG=only boat+make-FUT-IND
 ‘Without [my] father, I alone won’t [be able to] build a boat.’ [ES]
- (145) $\text{Ni \text{\textcircled{a}t\text{\textcircled{k}}+vavr-t}}$ pan-j=ra.
 1SG father+NEG-CVB.NARR.3SG grow-IND=FOC
 ‘I grew without a father.’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 1:18) [WS]
- (146) $\text{Jangut lums+qavr-t}$ $\text{vi-n\text{\textcircled{a}}-j=\eta a?}$
 how.1PL food+NEG-CVB.NARR.1PL go-FUT-IND=Q
 ‘How will we go without food?’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 1:19) [WS]
- (147) $\text{Ni \eta avr\text{\textcircled{k}}i+gavr-\eta +\eta a+xu-d.}$
 1SG wool+NEG-NMLZ+animal+kill-IND
 ‘I killed a hairless animal.’ (Fedotov FM2013) [ES]

In the same context, the WS variety also allows the use of the analytic construction in the dependent clause, cf. (148):

- (148) Mer jaŋgut lums ha-to q^haw-t vi-nə-ʃ=ŋa?
 1PL.INCL how.1PL food do_so-DAT NEG-CVB.NARR.1PL go-FUT-IND=Q
 ‘How will we go without food?’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 1:20) [WS]

In the A variety, the caritive meaning is marked by a narrative clause with the inherently negative possessive verb *ləɣə-* in predicative position and with the same clause and sentence structure as in the ES variety, cf. (149). This verb can be further grammaticalized into the relational noun (= postposition) *ləɣə* ‘without’, which has an affirmative counterpart *Tomsk*²³ ‘with’ and can be seen as the only, relatively new, dedicated caritive marker in Nivkh, cf. (150).

²³This relational noun has the variants *tomsk*, *romsk*, *domsk*.

- (149) Ni ətək=rə+ləyə-t pan-j=ra.
 1SG father=EMPH+not_have-CVB.NARR.1SG grow-IND=FOC
 ‘I grew without a father.’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 1:18) [WS]
- (150) Nəŋ vulvula+lep+romsk seta-də+ləyə ɛŋgut
 1PL.EXCL be_black+bread+with sugar-EMPH+without quickly:1PL
 c^haj+ra-ta.
 tea+drink-COORD.1PL
 ‘We quickly drank tea with black bread and without sugar.’ (Panfilov 1965: 161) [A]

Antonymic (privative) low-level negation, corresponding to English *unkind* or Russian *nekrasivyy* ‘not beautiful’, has no special markers in Nivkh either. It is expressed as normal negation in a subordinate clause by a negative verb in a dependent form attached to the verb expressing the quality, cf. (151):

- (151) Vew-gavr-ŋ+du kəŋ-d.
 deep-NEG-NMLZ+lake freeze-IND
 ‘[There are two lakes, a deep one and a shallow one.] The shallow (lit. not deep) lake has frozen’. (Fedotov FM2013) [ES^T]

4 Other aspects of negation

This section provides information on the scope of negation (§4.1), negative polarity (§4.2), marking of NPs in the scope of negation (§4.3), reinforcing negation (§4.4), negation in coordinated and subordinated clauses (§4.5), and some diachronic observations (§4.6).

4.1 The scope of negation

In Nivkh, the scope of negation is the whole clause, since negation can be marked only on the predicate. There are no negative markers that would allow narrowing of the scope to a specific constituent. All attempts to elicit the relevant examples ended in producing standard negative constructions. On the other hand, virtually any constituent can be emphasized as being in the focus of negation with the emphatic clitic, without a special intonation and without changing the word order (§4.4).

4.2 Negative polarity

Basically, Nivkh does not distinguish positive and negative polarity items. The only possible exception is represented by the negative emphatics in the ES variety, which seem to be gradually shifting from the affirmative to the negative domain (§3.2, §4.6.2).

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Case marking is not affected by negation in Nivkh.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Negation can be reinforced by the emphatic clitics, which are attached to various constituents in the clause.

The clitics WS =*ha-kisk/-gisk/-kirk*, A =*ha-gin/-girn* function as scalar focus markers with the meaning ‘even’, cf. (Haspelmath 1997: 158) and example (152):

- (152) **If=hagin p^hrə-dox q^hau-j.**
3SG=EMPH come-DAT NEG-IND
‘Even he didn’t come.’ (Saveljeva & Taksami 1970: 421) [A]

Another way to emphasize a single constituent, is to use the structure [interrogative + XP=EMPH], which is similar to the structure of proforms used in negative predications (§3.2). In the ES variety, the yielded form has just an emphatic reading both with and without negation, whereas in the WS and A varieties in the affirmative context it has a free-choice meaning ‘every XP’, cf. *siʃ + zir=hagin* ‘every tree’ in (153). In the scope of negation this meaning is understood as ‘no XP (whatsoever)’, cf. *nud + ox̣t=ziŋ* [what + medicine=EMPH] ‘no medicine’ in (154), and *siʃ + mu=hagin* ‘no boat’ in (155). The ES variety makes use of the emphatic clitic =*Ciŋ*, whereas in the WS and A varieties, the emphatic clitic has the form WS =*ha-kisk/-gisk/-kirk*, A =*ha-gin/-girn*.

- (153) **Siʃ+zir=hagin tuin pan-d ur-j.**
what+tree=EMPH here grow-NMLZ be_good-IND
‘Every tree grows here well.’ (Panfilov 1965: 165) [WS]

- (154) N-aki əki-q^hatn-d. Nud+oχt=ziŋ
 1SG-older_brother be_bad-AUG-IND what+medicine=EMPH
 ro-ŋ-gavr-i-d.
 help-NMLZ-NEG-FUT-IND
 ‘My older brother [feels] very bad. No medicine will help him.’
 (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:26) [ES]
- (155) Siŋ+mu=hagin kerq+tozu-nə-gavr-ŋ.
 what+boat=EMPH sea+CROSS-FUT-NEG-IND
 ‘No boat will cross the sea.’ (Panfilov 1965: 165) [WS]

Coordinated constituents can be also emphasized by emphatic clitics. In case of the ES variety, it is the clitic =Ciŋ, which can be used both in affirmative, cf. (156), and in negative predications, cf. (157–158). In the WS and A varieties, there are two possibilities. The first one is to use the clitic =Tə, cf. (159), which have been discussed in other sections, especially with regard to negative synthetic forms (2.1). Alternatively, one can utilize the clitic WS =ha-kisk/-gisk/-kirk, A =ha-gin/-girn. This clitic can be also used both for positive, cf. (160), and negative, cf. (161–162), emphasis with the preference for the latter.

- (156) Ni ək=ziŋ muŋf=ciŋ orbot-i-d=ra pərk
 1SG night=EMPH day=EMPH work-FUT-IND=FOC oneself
 p^h-rau-jnəftoχ.
 REFL-study-CVB.PURP
 ‘I’ll work day and night in order to study.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 4:154)
 [ES^T]
- (157) Huŋ+c^hχar+mi-x milkmla=ziŋ alŋ=ciŋ pan-gavr-d.
 that+tree+inside-ABL mushroom=EMPH berry=EMPH grow-NEG-IND
 ‘Neither mushrooms, nor berries grow in that forest.’ (Gruzdeva FM1991: 3:15) [ES^T]
- (158) C^hi taf=ciŋ mam=ziŋ+gavr-ŋar-d.
 2SG house=EMPH wife=EMPH+NEG-COMPL-IND
 ‘You have neither a house, nor a wife.’ (Gruzdeva FM2000: 4:13) [ES^T]

- (159) Tə+ap̩ ɲəɲ cʰo=rə+ɲəɲ-ysu-ta
 this+year 1PL_EXCL fish=EMPH+look_for-HAB.NEG-COORD.1PL
 ɲa=rə+ɲəɲ-ysu-ta ha-ʃ.
 beast=EMPH+look_for-HAB.NEG-COORD.1PL do_SO-IND
 ‘This year we didn’t fish [and] didn’t hunt.’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 1:10)
 [WS]
- (160) Tunx sək malyo-ʃ. Als=hakisk puk=hakisk melʁa-ʃ.
 here all be_a_lot-IND berry=EMPH mushroom=EMPH be_full-IND
 ‘Here there’s a lot of everything. [The place] is full of berries and
 mushrooms.’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 1:9) [WS]
- (161) Puk=hakisk als=hakisk tunx pan-də-xsu-ʃ.
 mushroom=EMPH berry=EMPH here grow-EMPH-HAB_NEG-IND
 ‘Neither mushrooms, no berries grow here.’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 1:9) [WS]
- (162) If təf=hakisk+Ɂavr-ra umgu=hakisk+Ɂavr-ra
 3SG house=EMPH+NEG-COORD.3SG woman=EMPH+NEG-COORD.3SG
 ha-ʃ.
 do_SO-IND
 ‘He has neither a house, nor a wife.’ (Gruzdeva FM2019: 1:8) [WS]

4.5 Negation in coordinated and subordinate clauses

Nivkh has several types of complex sentences, in which clauses can be combined either by coordination or by subordination. There are no special negative coordinators or conjunctions. All clauses can be negated separately or together with the standard strategy. For negation in subordinate clauses, see §2.4.

Coordinated clauses are formed by chained finite forms with the suffix ES *-ra* : *-ta* : *-na*, WS/A *-ra* : *-ta*, optionally followed by the auxiliary verb *ha-* ‘be/do so’ in the appropriate morphological form. The following example (163) comprises a chain of possessive clauses, of which the first one contains the negative verb *ləyə-* ‘not have’.

- (163) Cij qʰola-f=tə+ləyə-ta kʰəs
 also be_ill-NMLZ.LOC=EMPH+not_have-COORD.2PL happiness
 jiv-ta sək-ujn pilagut amr-ta
 exist-COORD.2PL all-LOC a_lot_of.2PL have_time-COORD.2PL

ha-ve.

do_so-IMP.2PL

‘Also, don’t be ill, be happy, have a lot of success in everything.’

(Jushkina 2019) [A]

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

This section will focus on diachronic observations. There are several phenomena in the realm of negation that are of interest from diachronic perspective. This section presents a more detailed discussion of the negative verbs (§4.6.1) and emphatic clitics (§4.6.2).

4.6.1 Negative verbs

As has been noted, in the ES variety there are two negative verbs, of which *qavr-* (with initial plosive) is intransitive and *ɬavr-* (with initial fricative in its free form) is transitive. Without going into further diachronic explanations, let us note that this opposition of initial plosives vs. fricatives is typical of Nivkh verbs in all varieties. The verb *qavr-* is used exclusively in existential predications, whereas *ɬavr-* in its free form is employed in possessive and equative predications and in its bound form in most other types of predications. In the A varieties, the corresponding verb *q^haw-* is intransitive, it is used independently with existential predications and forms a part of analytic negative construction with other predications. The origin of this analytic construction should probably be searched in the contacts with the neighboring Tungusic languages, which have similar negative constructions and have influenced mainly the A varieties of Nivkh. Interestingly, in the A varieties there are no traces of the negative transitive verb, which would have an initial fricative in contrast to intransitive *q^haw-*, which begins with a plosive. It seems that synchronically *q^haw-* can be transitivized by the causative suffix *-gu/-ku*, cf. (80) and the following example from (Saveljeva & Taksami 1970: 148): *Taj q^hau-gu-ʃ* <spot NEG-CAUS-IND> ‘[She] eliminated the spot’. All this suggests that the rise of the transitive verb in the ES varieties may have taken place after the split of these two variants.

As for the phonological shape of the negative verb, it may be assumed that its protoform was **qawr-*, which subsequently developed into ES *qavr-* and A *q^haw-*, respectively. In the ES variety, in this particular word, a non-syllabic labial glide *w* underwent a development to labiodental *ɱ*, which is a different phoneme. As a result, the verb has acquired its current ES form: **qawr-* > *qavr-*. As for the A variety, the negative verb has retained the glide *w* in its original shape, but

has lost the trill *r*, which, again, is in line with the general process of loss of fricatives and trills in this variety: **qawr-* > *qaw-*. According to this diachronic scenario, the initial consonant of the negative verb in the Amur variety should not be aspirated. However, since this postvelar stop is almost always spirantized, it is perceived and pronounced by the speakers as aspirated: *q^haw-*.

Apart from the historical changes affecting its phonological shape, **qawr-* has acquired verbal morphological features and developed an opposition of the intransitive (*qavr-*) and transitive (*ɤavr-*) forms that are now present in the ES and WS varieties. The formation of negative transitive forms led to the creation of complex synthetic negative forms and gradual grammaticalization of the negative verb into a suffixal marker. This model was later extended to the imperative (hortative, jussive) sentences. The process of compounding has spread also to inherently negative verbs, many of which followed the same grammaticalization path. The negative habitual suffix, which comes back to the full lexical verb ‘not know’, can be seen as an example of a final stage of such a process.

Due to the longstanding contacts with the Tungusic languages, the situation in the Amur variety has been developing differently. Here, **qawr-* has functioned as an intransitive verb *q^haw-*, which, besides its independent function in stative predications, is used to head an analytic negative construction with a nominalized lexical verb. In this regard, it may be noted that the structure of this construction goes against the common tendency of placing negative markers before the elements they negate, cf. (Dryer 2013). This construction has undergone further changes in its phonological structure, which could potentially lead to the development of new synthetic forms – if the language had a chance to develop further.

4.6.2 Emphatic clitics

As has been shown in §4.4, there are several emphatic clitics that occur in the negative context, whose properties differ in different Nivkh varieties. Also, each of the clitics has been developing historically in an idiosyncratic way.

The clitic =*Ciŋ* is attested primarily in the ES variety and can be used both with affirmative and negative predicates for general emphasis of a certain constituent and for deriving emphatic proforms, which are also used in negative predications. Lately, its use in the affirmative context has become extremely rare, which means that this emphatic clitic is following the so-called *Jespersen Cycle* (see e.g. van der Auwera 2009) and is on the way to be reanalyzed as a true negative marker. In this connection, let us recall the apprehensive forms, which are also built with the emphatic/evidential suffix.

The clitic WS =*ha-kisk/-gisk/-kirk*, A =*ha-gin/-girn* is derived from the nominalized form of the auxiliary verb *ha-* ‘be / do so’ with the instrumental suffix. In negative clauses, this clitic co-occurs with the clausal negator in the same way as ES =*Ciŋ*. However, in the affirmative clauses, its function is different, as it is employed for deriving free-choice indefinites and providing the free-choice reading of other constituents to which it is attached. As a result, the clitic retains its affirmative status and is not embraced by the *Jespersen Cycle*.

The emphatic clitic =*Tə* comes back to the general focus clitic =*Ta*, making use of a process known as “*a*-raising” for emphasis. Also, the clitic can be attached to nominalized verbal complements, which has determined its fate as a suffixalized and desemanticized element within synthetic negative forms.

5 Conclusion

As may be concluded from the previous discussion, the Nivkh system of negation was originally formed on the basis of a fundamental opposition between declarative and imperative clauses. This opposition was apparently relevant even before the language diversified into the different dialectal varieties. Formally, the opposition was built upon two main elements: (i) the clause-final element **qawr-*, which marked negation in the declarative sentences, and (ii) the clause-initial element *t^ha*, which was used to mark negation in prohibitive sentences, and which remained intact through the history of the language. The existence of special negative marking in prohibitives conforms to a general typological tendency mentioned in (van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev) 2013). Except for this distinction, negation of all types of clauses in Nivkh follows common rules and uses basically the same devices.

As we have seen, in the realm of negation, Nivkh also displays many other interesting historical processes, which involve the transition or expansion of clitics and forms from the positive sphere to the negative. Apprehensives have developed an inherently negative meaning on the basis of affirmative emphatic/evidential forms, and the same process is observed for emphatic clitics.

Among other features, one should mention the relatively large amount of negative lexicalizations and an elaborate system of proforms that co-occur with the negative predicates. Table 3 sums up the main negation strategies in the East Sakhalin and Amur varieties of Nivkh.

Table 3: Summary of negation strategies in Nivkh

Negation strategy	Function(s)	Section(s)
(-ŋ)- <i>cavr</i> - (ES)	standard negation	§2.1.1
	prohibitive (with imperative)	§2.2.1
	negative ascriptive	§2.3.5
<i>qavr</i> - (ES)	negative existential	§2.3.1
<i>j-iv(-ŋ)-cavr</i> - (ES)	negative possessive	§2.3.2
<i>ɤavr</i> - (ES)	negative possessive	§2.3.2
	negative locative	§2.3.3
<i>ɤavr-k</i> (ES)	negative equative	§2.3.4
<i>q^haw</i> - (A)	negative existential	§2.3.1
	negative possessive	§2.3.2
	negative locative	§2.3.3
<i>q^haw-k(=ra)</i> (ES/A)	negative reply	§3.1
<i>-Toχ q^haw</i> - (A)	standard negation	§2.1.2
	negative ascriptive	§2.3.5
<i>ha-To(χ) q^haw-ɤ=ra</i> (A)	negative equative	§2.3.4
<i>ha-To(χ) q^haw-k</i> (A)	negative equative	§2.3.4
<i>-Ksu</i> - (ES/A)	negative habitual	§2.1.3
<i>t^ha -IMP</i> (ES/A)	prohibitive	§2.2.1
<i>-inəŋra : -inəŋta</i> (ES) / <i>-nəra</i> (A)	apprehensive (visual)	§2.2.2
<i>-jaŋra : -jaŋra</i> (ES) / <i>-ijra</i> (A)	apprehensive (inferential)	§2.2.2
<i>ujye / ujyi</i> - (ES)	negative existential	§2.3.1
<i>avli</i> - (ES)	negative possessive	§2.3.2
<i>ləyə</i> - (A)	negative possessive	§2.3.2
<i>ləyə</i> (A)	caritive	§3.3
<i>-lakrɤ : -lakrt</i> (ES) / <i>-ləkrr : -ləkrt</i> (A)	negative purposive converb	§2.4
interrogative= <i>EMPH</i> (ES)	negative proforms	§3.2
interrogative= <i>ha-INSTR</i> (A)	negative proforms	§3.2
interrogative XP= <i>EMPH</i> (ES)	forms reinforcing negation	§4.4
interrogative XP= <i>ha-INSTR</i> (A)	forms reinforcing negation	§4.4
XP= <i>ha-INSTR</i> (A)	forms reinforcing negation	§4.4
XP= <i>Ci(ŋ)</i> (ES)	forms reinforcing negation	§4.4
XP= <i>Tə</i> (A)	forms reinforcing negation	§4.4

Acknowledgements

This article is a part of Ekaterina Gruzdeva's project "A Grammar of Nivkh: an isolate Paleosiberian language" (Helsinki Collegium for Advanced Studies, 2019–2021) and Maksim Fedotov's project "Grammatical periphery in the languages of the world: a typological study of caritives" (Russian Science Foundation, Grant No. 18–78–10058). We are grateful to two anonymous reviewers for their useful comments and criticism. Responsibility for the contents of this paper and for any errors or drawbacks remains our own.

Abbreviations

1	first person	FUT	future
2	second person	GNR	generic
3	third person	HAB	habitual
A	Amur (Lower/Liman) varieties	HUM	human
ABL	ablative	IMM	immediate
ACC	accusative	IMP	imperative
ADVS	adversative	INCL	inclusive
AGT	agentive	IND	indicative
APPR	apprehensive	INFR	inferential
ASRT	assertive	INS	instrumental
AUG	augmentative (verbal)	ITER	iterative
CAUS	causative	LOC	locative
CLF	classifier	NEG	negation
COMPL	completive	NARR	narrative
COORD	coordinating verb form	NMLZ	nominalization
CONC	concessive	NP	noun phrase
COND	conditional	NS	North Sakhalin variety
CS	Central Sakhalin variety	PL	plural
CVB	converb	PLAC	pluractional reduplication
DAT	dative	PROB	probabilitive
DES	desiderative	PROG	progressive
DEST	destinative	PURP	purposive
DIR	direct	Q	interrogative
DIR	direct	QUAL	qualitative
DIST	distal	RECP	reciprocal
DU	dual	REFL	reflexive
DUR	durative	REP	reportative
EMPH	emphatic	SBJV	subjunctive
EP	epenthesis	SG	singular
ES	East Sakhalin variety	SIM	simultaneous/anterior
ES ^N	Nyivo variant of the East Sakhalin variety	SS	South Sakhalin variety
ES ^T	Tymovsk variant of the East Sakhalin variety	TR	transitivizer
EVID	evidentiality	V	(lexical) verb
EXCL	exclusive	VIS	visual
FOC	focus	VOC	vocative
FM	field materials	WS	West Sakhalin variety
		XP	any syntactic phrase

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Negation in Sundanese

Marielle Butters

The Malayo-Polynesian language, Sundanese, is characterized by a rich system for the encoding of negation. While the position and number of negators in clausal negation follows the cross-linguistic majority, some elements of Sundanese negation are less common, including the distinction made in negators used in verbal versus nominal predicates and the productive use of negative lexicalizations in certain areas of cognition and volition. Negation in Sundanese also includes distinct negators in certain tense and aspectual categories; alternative negation strategies to achieve greater levels of politeness or indirectness; prohibitives with uses beyond imperative mood; and polarity phenomena relying on reduplication and scalar additive particles. This chapter comprises a detailed description of Sundanese negation following use of Miestamo's questionnaire (revised together with Ljuba Veselinova) in a field environment in West Java.

Keywords: Malayo-Polynesian, negation, negative lexicalizations, scalar Semantics, existential predication.

1 The language

Sundanese, known by its speakers as *Basa Sunda*, (lit. 'Language of Sunda', ISO: [sun](#), Glottocode: [sund1252](#)), is a Malayo-Polynesian, Austronesian language spoken primarily in West Java and Banten, Indonesia. Centuries-old migration and more recent governmental transmigration have also resulted in pockets of Sundanese speakers elsewhere in Indonesia, such as southern Sumatra, West Kalimantan, and Riau. With around 34 million speakers, Sundanese is the third most widely spoken language in Indonesia, after *Bahasa Indonesia* (Indonesian) and Javanese. Though its speakers account for approximately 15% of the population, Sundanese, like other *bahasa daerah* (regional languages), is in decline as speakers increasingly shift to greater use of Indonesian, the official and national language of the country. In contemporary times, monolingual Sundanese speakers are found almost exclusively in rural areas among older populations.

Marielle Butters. 2025. Negation in Sundanese. In Matti Miestamo & Ljuba Veselinova (eds.), *Negation book*, 933–967. Berlin: Language Science Press.

DOI: [??](#) 

Like other languages of Indonesia, Sundanese has been considerably influenced by languages outside the Austronesian family. External influence on the Austronesian world began 2,000 years ago and occurred in the following order: Indian (Sanskrit), Chinese (Hokkien, Hakka, Cantonese, etc.), Islamic (Arabic), and European (Portuguese, Spanish, Dutch, English) (Blust 2013). The fall of the Sundanese Pajajaran Kingdom in the 16th century resulted in the loss of a Sundanese cultural center as power became concentrated in the *kabupaten* (the seat of the local leader) with no strong single point of influence. Today the center of Sundanese culture is widely viewed to be Priangan, in the highlands around the city of Bandung in West Java province. While there are numerous dialects of Sundanese, it is the Priangan dialect that is taken to be the standard and taught from elementary to high school in West Java and Banten provinces.

Sundanese is characterized by basic SVO word order, mostly isolating and agglutinating morphology, nasal harmony, and reduplication. Also notable is the elaborate coding of speech levels in most dialects. Lezer (1931, cited in Wessing 1974) identifies four basic levels: i) *lemes pisan* ‘very polite’, ii) *lemes* ‘polite/deferential’, iii) *kasar* ‘ordinary/ colloquial’, iv) *kasar pisan* ‘vulgar’. These speech levels, which consist of nearly fully distinct lexicons at each level, have long been recognized as a borrowing from Javanese. This is supported by the fact that speech levels are absent in Baduy, the region of the Sundanese world considered to be the most archaic (Gonda 1948 and oral tradition).

One particularly rich area of Sundanese grammar is negation, the focus of this chapter. The structure of the chapter mirrors that of Miestamo’s negation questionnaire (revised together with Ljuba Veselinova). A large portion of the data presented herein was collected by the author from June 2019 to August 2019 in the village of Cipta Gelar, one of the larger villages of Kasepuhan Banten Kidul, a community in the southern region of Mount Halimun Salak National Park in West Java. The work is supplemented by data gathered by the author in Bogor, West Java from January 2019 to June 2019, and in Bandung in February 2020. The data includes utterances from different speech levels, though the majority are from the *lemes* or high speech level. The author follows Sundanese orthographic conventions throughout the chapter wherein ‘é’ is used for the mid front vowel /ɛ/ and ‘e’ represents mid central /ə/. Some of the glossed examples are also included in the analysis presented in Butters (2021).

For a full table of the negators and negative constructions discussed throughout the chapter, the reader can refer to Table 2 at the end of the chapter.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation (Payne 1985, Miestamo 2005) refers to the basic ways languages have for negating declarative main clauses with a verbal predicate. The standard negator in Sundanese is the uninflected particle *henteu*, frequently in its clipped form *teu*. This negator occurs directly before the verbal predicate, the most common position for negation in Austronesian languages (Vossen & van der Auwera 2014: 61) and cross-linguistically (Dahl 1979, Dryer 2013, van der Auwera & Du Mon 2015: 411). An affirmative utterance is presented in (1a) along with its negative counterpart in (1b).

- (1) a. Urang nga-guna-keun éta éंबर.
 person.1PL ACT-use-APPL DEM bucket
 ‘We use that bucket.’
 b. Urang (**hen**)teu nga-guna-keun éta éंबर.
 person.1PL NEG ACT-use-APPL DEM bucket
 ‘We don’t use that bucket.’

Evidence that the negator is a particle rather than a verb is provided by its inability to take the plural infix *-ar-* (or its allophone *-al-*) which typically affixes to nouns and verbs, as shown in (2).

- (2) a. Aranjeunna teu taruang tos sababaraha dinten.
 3PL NEG PL-EAT IAM several day
 ‘They hadn’t eaten for several days.’ (Butters 2021: 43)
 b. *Aranjeunna tareu taruang tos sababaraha dinten.
 3PL NEG.PL PL-eat IAM several day
 ‘They hadn’t eaten for several days.’

Sundanese has a number of special negators that are used in environments where (*hen*)*teu* is dispreferred. Many of these will be presented in later sections. For the moment, I discuss clausal negators that are used in particular tenses or aspects. While Sundanese does not possess overt tense morphology, there are temporal adverbials (e.g. *ayeuna* ‘now’, *dinten ieu* ‘today’, *énjing* ‘tomorrow’) and temporal/aspectual auxiliaries (e.g. *nuju* for the progressive, *atos* ‘already’ for the iamitive) whose occurrence and position in the clause is quite flexible. I turn now to address a few areas of negation related to tense and aspectual distinctions.

These include: a special negative future marker, ‘not anymore’, ‘not yet’, and ‘never’.

Negative future is encoded by a special marker, *moal*, as demonstrated in (3a). The future counterpart in affirmative utterances is the high form *badé* ‘want’ or the middle-to-low form *(a)rék* ‘want’, shown in (3b), both of which have grammaticalized as future markers, though the lexical meaning is still transparent to speakers.¹ *Badé* and *(a)rék* cannot be negated by the standard negator. *Moal* thus constitutes an example of asymmetric negation, while most negation in Sundanese is generally symmetric, as in (1a) and (1b) (following the classification in Miestamo 2000, 2003, 2005).

- (3) a. Abdi **moal** ngiring ka ditu kumargi aya peryogi di kampus.
 1SG NEG.FUT ACT.follow to there because EX matter LOC campus
 ‘I will not join because I have something to do on campus.’
 b. Abdi **badé** ngiring ka ditu.
 1SG want ACT.follow to there
 ‘I will join there.’ (Butters 2021: 76)

As demonstrated in (4), *moal* is often followed by the adverbial *waka* ‘too early, before its time’, which tends to collocate with negatives. Consultants report the perception that leaving out *waka* ‘too early, before its time’ results in a statement that is too definite. Adverbials like *waka* ‘too early, before its time’ and *heula* ‘first’ are frequently affixed to verbs in Sundanese to encode politeness. When one leaves a group, for instance, one should say *indit heula* ‘(I’m) leaving first’, even when one is not the first to go and when one does intend to return that day. Consultants note that this leaves open the possibility that one might return.

- (4) **Moal waka** angkat heula.
 NEG.FUT too.early go first
 ‘(I) will not go just yet.’ (Butters 2021: 77)

NOT ANYMORE is encoded by the co-occurrence of the standard negator, *(hen)teu*, and *deui* ‘again’, as shown in (5).

- (5) a. Aki atos **teu** damel di dieu **deui**.
 grandfather IAM NEG work LOC here again
 ‘The older man (lit. grandfather) does not work here anymore.’

¹Other verbs, e.g., *hoyong* ‘wish to’, only code desire and do not have the same function of encoding future.

- b. Kopi éta atos **teu** panas **deui**.
 coffee DEM IAM NEG hot again
 ‘That coffee is not hot anymore.’

NOT YET can be represented by a number of formal means. The first is the co-occurrence of the standard negator with *heula* ‘first’, as demonstrated in (6). Such a strategy is also attested in Bantu languages (Veselinova & Devos 2021).

- (6) Abdi mah **teu** **heula** mészér tas.
 1SG DP NEG first buy bag
 ‘I’m not going to buy the bag just yet.’ (Butters 2021: 88)

NOT YET can also be expressed by the verbal negator plus the polarity sensitive item *acan* or its clipped form *can*, as shown in (7a). In spoken Sundanese, the fused form *tacan* is also common, as in (7b). Meanwhile, the iamitives² include the polite form *parantos/ atos/ tos* ‘already’ and the colloquial *(ng)geus* ‘already’, as demonstrated in (7c); the iamitives cannot be negated, as shown in (7d).

- (7) a. Manéhna **teu** **acan** nikah.
 3SG NEG PHPC marry
 ‘S/he is not married yet.’
 b. Abdi **tacan** pa-pendak sa-saha.
 1SG not.yet RED-meet RED-who
 ‘I haven’t met anyone yet.’
 c. Manéhna **tos** nikah.
 3SG IAM marry
 ‘S/he is already married.’ (Butters 2021: 92)
 d. * Manéhna **teu** **tos** nikah.
 3SG NEG IAM marry
 ‘S/he is not married yet.’

Interestingly, in colloquial speech the particle *(a)can* frequently appears alone yet retains its negative meaning, as demonstrated in a declarative utterance in (8) and a short conversation in (9).

²I follow Dahl & Wälchli (2016) in using the term ‘iamitive’ rather than ‘perfect’, as these markers in Sundanese can combine with stative predicates like ‘be here’, as in *atos di dieu* ‘already here’ and ‘be sick’, as in *atos gering* ‘already sick’.

- (8) Ti isuk **can** ibak.
from morning PHPC bathe
'From morning, (I) haven't bathed yet.'

- (9) Q: Geus dahar **acan**?
IAM eat PHPC
'Have you eaten yet, or not?'

A: **Acan**.
PHPC
'Not yet.' (Butters 2021: 92)

The particle *acan* will appear again in §4.2 on negative polarity. I reserve the analysis of 'not yet' for §4.6.3 which handles diachronic issues.

The last expression to be covered in this section is the coding of 'never', which is done through the negation of the perfect particle *pernah*, as in (10), which encodes either negative present perfect or negative habitual. *Acan* is optional but preferred in the former instance, according to consultants.

- (10) a. Anjeuna **teu** (acan) **pernah** indit ka sekolah.
3SG NEG PHPC PRF go to school
'He has never gone to school' / 'He never goes to school.'
- b. Anjeuna **pernah** linggih di Ciamis.
3SG PRF live LOC Ciamis
'He once lived in Ciamis' / 'He has lived in Ciamis.' (Butters 2021: 95)

Alternatively, 'never' is encoded by a special particle *tara*, as in (11). Speakers suggest that *tara* means both 'never' and 'rarely', which again may have to do with a tendency to avoid definite negation.

- (11) Manéhna **tara** sare dina kasur.
3SG never sleep LOC mattress
'S/he never sleeps on a mattress.' (when noting a girl's preference to sleep on a mat) (Butters 2021: 92)

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

This section focuses on negation in imperative mood and interrogative mood. In imperative mood in affirmative contexts, the verb occurs in clause initial position and the subject is dropped, as in (12a), or postponed to the end of the utterance, as in (12b). A less direct command is encoded by passive voice, as in (12c).

- (12) a. Leueut kopi anjeun.
 drink coffee 2SG.POSS
 ‘Drink your coffee.’
 b. Bobo di dieu anjeun.
 sleep LOC here 2SG
 ‘Sleep here, you.’
 c. Mangga di-leueut kopi-na.
 HORT PASS-drink coffee-LIG
 ‘Go ahead and drink your coffee.’ (Butters 2021: 137)

The prohibitives, *ulah* in higher speech level and *tong* in lower speech level, are separate uninflected particles that occurs in phrase-initial position. Sundanese joins the majority in the 495-language sample described by van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev) (2013), in having prohibitives that differs in form and position from the standard negator. The prohibitives can be used with both activities and attributes, as indicated in (14).

- (13) a. Ulah saré kapetingan supados henteu hudang kaburangan.
 PROH sleep late.night in.order.to NEG wake late.day
 ‘Don’t sleep late at night in order to not wake up too late.’
 b. Ulah osok langlang-lingling.
 PROH always wander-energetic
 ‘Don’t always be aimless.’
 c. Ulah gélo.
 PROH crazy
 ‘Don’t be crazy.’ (Butters 2021: 137)

A negative command is softened by the use of passive voice, as in (14a), or the addition of the existential predicator, *aya*, as in (14b).

- (14) a. Ulah di-inum kopi manéh.
 PROH PASS-drink coffee 2SG
 ‘Do not drink your coffee.’ (if, for instance, there is a fly in the coffee)
 b. Ulah aya nu tinggal-eun.
 PROH EX REL stay-PASS
 ‘Don’t leave anything behind.’ (Butters 2021: 149)

When the prohibitive is followed by the first person inclusive plural pronoun, a suggestion against collective action is encoded, as in (15).

- (15) **Ulah** arurang nyalah-keun manéhna.
 PROH person.PL ACT.WRONG-APPL 3SG
 ‘Let us not blame him.’ (Butters 2021: 148)

The hortative *hayu*, which occurs in phrase-initial position, as in (16a), can also be used with the prohibitive, as in (16b). The prohibitive is frequently used on its own for urging, even in absence of a verb, as in (16c).

- (16) a. **Hayu** urang ka sawah!
 HORT person.1PL to paddy field
 ‘Let’s go to the paddy field!’
 b. **Hayu** urang **ulah** ka lapangan heula poé ieu.
 HORT person.1PL PROH to field first day DEM
 ‘Let’s not go to the field yet today.’
 c. **Ulah** ka lapangan poé ieu!
 PROH to field day DEM
 ‘Let’s not go to the field today!’

The prohibitive form has functions beyond those discussed thus far, but these are reserved for §4.6.2. In the meantime, I turn to another category of negation in non-declarative utterances; namely, the behavior of negation in interrogative clauses.

Polar questions in Sundanese are typically expressed simply through the marking of a declarative utterance with rising intonation, as in (17a) and with the negator in (17b). An additional strategy is fronting the verb and optionally postposing the subject, as in (17c), and with the negator in (17d).

- (17) a. Meri ngartos?
 Meri ACT.understand
 ‘Do you (Meri) understand?’
 b. Meri **teu** ngartos?
 Meri NEG understand
 ‘You (Meri) don’t understand?’
 c. Ngartos (anjeun) Meri?
 ACT.understand 2SG Meri
 ‘Do you understand, Meri?’
 d. **Teu** ngartos (anjeun) Meri?
 NEG ACT.understand 2SG Meri
 ‘Don’t you understand, Meri?’

The verbal negator (*hen*)*teu* also functions as a negative tag, as in (18). It is fairly flexible in its position in an utterance and its scope is always leftward. It is a neutral tag, used to seek information without prior expectation.

- (18) a. Jarak mal sareng stasiun tebih **henteu**?
 distance mall COM station far NEG
 ‘Is the distance from the mall to the station far or not?’
 b. Tebih **henteu** sareng stasiun jarak-na?
 far NEG COM station distance-LIG
 ‘Is it far or not from the station?’

The productive nominal negator *lain*, presented in the next section, can also be used as a tag, though it is far more restricted in its position than (*hen*)*teu*. It occurs at the end of the utterance and has wide sentential scope. It can be paraphrased, ‘isn’t it?/is it not the case?’, as demonstrated in (19).

- (19) a. Éta anjing ngagonggong **lain**?
 DEM dog bark NEG
 ‘That’s a dog barking, isn’t it?’
 b. Manéhna nu datang téh **lain**?
 3SG REL come DP NEG
 ‘He was the one who came, wasn’t he?’

Unlike the verbal negator, the nominal negator when used as a tag encodes prior expectation on the part of the speaker and expects an affirmative response.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Payne (1997: 111) divides stative predication into the following types: equation, proper inclusion, attribution, locative predication, existential predication, and possessive predication. These types are addressed in this section.

Sundanese, like many non-Oceanic Austronesian languages, employs an entirely different negator for nominal predications than for verbal or adjectival predications. This negator, *sanés* in the high speech level or *lain* in middle speech level, occurs in the same position of the utterance as the verbal negator. (20) demonstrates the use of *lain* in an equative predication, where there is no change in word order between the affirmative and negative utterances. The use of the standard negator (*hen*)*teu* here would result in an ungrammatical sentence.

- (20) a. Manéhna budak leutik.
3SG child small
'S/he is a small child.'
- b. Manéhna **lain** budak leutik.
3SG NEG child small
'S/he is not a small child.'

The same negators are used to encode proper inclusion, as shown in (21). Once again, the standard negator is ungrammatical here.

- (21) a. Kasép tukang moro.
Kasep craftsman hunt
'Kasep is a hunter.'
- b. Kasép **lain** tukang moro.
Kasep NEG craftsman hunt
'Kasep is not a hunter.' (Butters 2021: 44)

The negation of attribution, on the other hand, is most typically expressed with the standard negator (*hen*)*teu*, as in (22b). However, in contrastive negation like (22c), the nominal negator is preferred.

- (22) a. Awak manéhna tiis.
body 3SG cold
'S/he is very cold.'
- b. Awak manéhna **teu** tiis.
body 3SG NEG cold
'S/he is not very cold.'
- c. Manéhna **lain** males tapi tunduh.
3SG NEG lazy but sleepy
'S/he's not lazy, but sleepy.' (when defending a child not helping with a task)

In Sundanese, affirmative existential predicates are used to code locative predication, existential predication, locative-presentative constructions (identified in Veselinova 2013b), and possessive predication.³ In locative predications, as in (23), the use of the existential predictor, *aya*, is optional, while locative markers are obligatory; the standard negator precedes the affirmative existential.

³The literature on existential predications is vast and is beyond the scope of the present paper.

- (23) a. Ucing (aya) di samak.
 cat EX on mat
 ‘The cat is on the mat.’
 b. Ucing teu (aya) di samak.
 cat NEG EX on mat
 ‘The cat is not on the mat.’

Locative-presentative constructions, presented in (24), contain a non-specific subject preceded by an existential or negative existential.

- (24) a. Aya jalmi di kampung ieu nu gaduh imah ageung.
 EX person LOC village DEM REL have house big
 ‘There are people in this village who have big houses.’
 b. Teu aya jurig di leuweung.
 NEG EX ghost LOC forest
 ‘There are no ghosts in the forest.’

Sundanese existential predications and negative existential predications are shown in (25). The affirmative existential is *aya*, which can be negated by the standard negator, as in *teu aya* or the fused form *taya*. Additionally, there is a special negative existential predicator – that is to say, a variant of the type discussed in Veselinova (2013b) that is distinct from the negative existential formed by the standard negator. In Sundanese, this form is *euweuh*, shown in (25d).

- (25) a. Aya loba béas.
 EX many rice_grains
 ‘There is a lot of rice.’
 b. Teu aya loba béas.
 NEG EX many rice_grains
 ‘There is a lot of rice.’
 c. Taya loba béas!
 NEG.EX many rice_grains
 ‘There is not much rice!’
 d. Euweuh anjing anu ngagonggong di luar.
 NEG.EX dog REL ACT.bark LOC outside
 ‘There is no dog barking outside.’ (Butters 2021: 109)

The negative existentials can be used interchangeably, though *euweuh* is considered very coarse and is probably the most recent predicator, following the principle that forms associated with innovative sociolinguistic forces are likely to be newer (Greenberg 1966).⁴ The selection of negative existentials in Sundanese appears to have more to do with attending to the correct speech levels than with any distinct functions performed by the existentials.

Possessive predication can be encoded through use of the high form transitive verb *gaduh* ‘have’ or the lower form *boga* ‘have’, as in (26a), which like other verbs are negated by (*hen*)*teu*, as in (26b). Additionally, the existential predicator can be used to code possession, as in (26c), and the negative existential can negate possession, but only when there is a definite subject in the initial slot of the utterance, as in (26d). Each of the existential predicators discussed thus far are compatible with coding possession.

- (26) a. Abdi **gaduh** seueur waktu.
 1SG have many time
 ‘I have lots of time.’
 b. Abdi **teu gaduh** seueur waktu.
 1SG NEG have many time
 ‘I don’t have a lot of time.’
 c. Faheem aya karanjang nu hampang.
 Faheem EX basket REL lightweight
 ‘Faheem has a lightweight basket.’
 d. Faheem taya karanjang nu hampang.
 Faheem NEG.EX basket REL lightweight
 ‘Faheem does not have a lightweight basket.’

As shown in (27), when the possessed entity is in sentence initial position, the comitative *sareng* or the locative *di* is obligatory, while the existential predicate is optional.

- (27) a. Poci-na (aya) sareng abdi.
 teapot-DEF EX COM 1SG
 ‘I have the teapot.’
 b. Poci-na teu (aya) sareng abdi.
 teapot-DEF NEG EX COM 1SG
 ‘I do not have the teapot.’

⁴I suspect *euweuh* might have developed from a lexeme meaning ‘lost’, but more evidence is needed to support this analysis

- c. Konci-na (aya) **di** abdi.
 key-DEF EX LOC 1SG
 'I have the key.'
- d. Konci-na **teu** (aya) **di** abdi.
 key-DEF NEG EX LOC 1SG
 'I don't have the key.'

The use of the comitative corresponds to a Companion schema while the use of the locative corresponds to a Location schema, in the sense of [Heine \(1997\)](#).

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Negation in dependent and subordinate clauses is expressed through standard negation. Complementizers are optional and rarely used in spoken language. The variants in (28) are all possible.

- (28) a. Urang ningali (yén) anjeuna datang.
 person.1SG ACT.see COMP 3SG come.
 'I saw (that) he's coming.'
- b. Urang ningali (yén) anjeuna **teu** datang.
 person.1SG ACT.see COMP 3SG NEG come.
 'I saw (that) he's not coming.'
- c. Urang **teu** ningali (yén) anjeuna datang.
 person.1SG NEG ACT.see COMP 3SG come
 'I didn't see (that) he came.'
- d. Urang **teu** ningali (yén) anjeuna **teu** datang.
 person.1SG NEG ACT.see COMP 3SG NEG come
 'I didn't see (that) he did not come.'

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Earlier in this chapter, I described special negators like the future negator, *moal*, and the 'not yet' forms, *teu acan*, *tacan*, or *can*. The aim of this section is to present two other irregular negative verbs that fall within the realm of volition and cognition: 'not want' and 'not know'. The existence of special negators for not wanting and not knowing is not particularly surprising given what is known of domains that tend to exhibit special negative lexicalization. [Veselinova \(2013a\)](#), for instance, notes that after negative existentials and 'not yet' expressions, the

next most common negative lexicalizations include ‘not know’, ‘not be of identity’, ‘cannot’, ‘not want’, ‘not talk’ and ‘need not’.

In Sundanese, ‘not want’ can be encoded by the irregular low form negative verb, *embung*, or the high form *alim*.⁵ These negators occur in the same slot in the utterance as standard negation, as demonstrated in (29a) and (29b). *Alim* can also take the third person suffix *-eun* as shown in (29c).

- (29) a. Abdi **alim** kopi atanapi téh.
 1SG NEG.want coffee or tea
 ‘I don’t want coffee nor tea.’
 b. Hena **alim** emam buah ngora éta da haseum.
 Hena NEG.want eat fruit young DEM because sour
 ‘Hena doesn’t want to eat that unripe fruit because (it’s) sour.’
 c. Anjeunna mah. **alim-eun**.
 3SG DP unwilling-3
 ‘He doesn’t want to.’ / ‘He is unwilling.’ (Butters 2021: 73)

Alternatively, the lexeme *hoyong* ‘want’ (or the colloquial *hayang*) can be negated through ordinary means, as in (30).

- (30) Hena **teu** hoyong tuang buah éta.
 Hena NEG desire eat fruit DEM
 ‘Hena doesn’t want to eat that fruit.’ (Butters 2021: 73)

In colloquial speech, *alim* is often used in replies, as in (31). It is frequently accompanied by the discourse particle *ah* indicating frustration.

- (31) Q: Badé ngiring sareng bapa?
 want ACT.follow COM father
 ‘Do you want to go with me (lit. father)?’
 A: **Alim** da badé ngiring sareng ibu.
 NEG.want because want ACT.follow COM mother
 ‘(I) don’t want to because (I’m) going with mother.’ (Butters 2021: 74)

Example (32) suggests that *alim* may be broadening into the domain of ability modality.

⁵Hardjadibrata (2003: 219) also lists the forms *narah* and *teu kersa* for NOT WANT, which are not attested in my data.

- (32) A: Kang hayu urang ka sawah!
 big.brother HORT person.1PL to paddy.fields
 ‘Come on, man, let’s go to the paddy fields!’
 B: Alim ah abdi badé ngala suluh!
 NEG.want DP 1SG want ACT.gather firewood
 ‘I don’t want to because I have to collect firewood!’ (Butters 2021: 74)

A second negative lexicalization is *duka* meaning ‘don’t know’. *Duka* occurs most often in sentence initial position or in answer to questions, as in (33).

- (33) A: Manéh kunaon batuk waé?
 2SG why cough just
 ‘Why are you coughing?’
 B: Duka kana kebul meureun.
 NEG.know to dust maybe
 ‘I don’t know, maybe from the dust.’ (Butters 2021: 82)

The polite *terang* ‘know’ (or the colloquial *nyaho* ‘know’) can also be negated by the regular verbal negator, as in (34a) and (34c). Speakers do not accept the substitution of *duka* ‘not know’ here.

- (34) a. Hena **teu terang** kunaon manéhna ngambek.
 Hena NEG know why 3SG ACT.angry
 ‘Hena doesn’t know why s/he is angry.’
 b. * Hena **duka** kunaon manéhna ngambek.
 Hena NEG.know why 3SG ACT.angry
 ‘Hena doesn’t know why s/he is angry.’
 c. Upami **teu terang** jalan-na saé-na ulah angkat nyalira.
 if NEG know road-DEF good-LIG PROH go alone
 ‘If you don’t know the right road, it’s better not to go alone.’
 d. * Upami **duka** jalan-na saé-na ulah angkat nyalira.
 if NEG.know road-DEF good-LIG PROH go alone
 ‘If you don’t know the right road, it’s better not to go alone.’

Duka has a broader function of appealing to general ignorance, as in (35a), corresponding to the Indonesian *entah* ‘who knows’. This broader function is particularly evident in expressions where *duka* occurs in the same utterance as *teu terang*, as in (35b).

- (35) a. **Duka** kunaon manéhna ngambek deui!
 NEG.know why 3SG angry again
 ‘Who knows why she is angry again!’
 b. **Duka** abdi teu terang.
 NEG.know 1SG NEG know
 ‘Who knows, I don’t know.’

In Sundanese and in Indonesian, *duka* can also mean ‘sorrow, sadness’, appearing in the Sundanese *duduka* ‘anger, displeasure, disgrace’ and *kadukaan* ‘grief, sorrow’ (Hardjadibrata 2003: 210), as well as in the Indonesian *berduka cita* ‘to mourn, to grieve’, among other lexemes. It is possible that the ignorative meaning grammaticalized from an expression of sorrow or apology.

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

This chapter has already included several means to soften negative force. An additional strategy is the substitution of the lexeme *kirang* ‘less’ for the standard negator, as in (36). *Kirang* can occur directly before verbs and attributes.

- (36) a. Abdi **kirang** percanten kana jawab-an-na.
 1SG less believe-3 to answer-NMLZ-3SG
 ‘I don’t really believe his answer.’
 b. Cuaca dinten ieu **kirang** saé pisan.
 weather day DEM less good very
 ‘The weather today was really not so good.’ (Butters 2021: 83)

The form *kurang* ‘less’ encodes the same function in Standard Indonesian. Given the high level of bilingualism between the two languages, it is likely that the construction was borrowed, though the direction of that borrowing is unclear.

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Replies expressing ‘no’ make use of any of the negators discussed thus far, depending on the predicate type. Example (37) demonstrates a standard negative reply. (38) shows the use of *alim* ‘not want’ in a reply. There are no changes to these forms in replies, though there is perhaps a general preference to use a full form rather than a clipped form, especially if the reply is emphatic.

- (37) A: *Linggih di dieu?*
 live LOC here
 ‘Do you live here?’
 B: **Henteu.**
 NEG
 ‘No (I don’t).’
- (38) A: *Badé ngiring ka ditu?*
 want ACT.follow to there
 ‘Do you want to join?’
 B: **Alim.**
 NEG.want
 ‘No, I don’t want to.’

A negative reply agrees with the polarity of a negative question, such that in (39) the answer, *moal*, confirms the supposition of the questioner and in the process negates the propositional content. The affirmative future marker, *badé*, disagrees with the negative question, making it polarity reversing.

- (39) Q: *Asep moal bobo di dieu?*
 Asep NEG.FUT sleep LOC here
 ‘Asep is not going to sleep here?’
 A1: **Moal.**
 NEG.FUT
 ‘Yes, that’s right, (Asep) is not going to (sleep here).’
 A2: **Badé.**
 FUT
 ‘No, that’s not right, (Asep) is going to (sleep here).’

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Sundanese does not have special negative indefinite pronouns like the English *nothing* nor the Latin *nemo*. Rather, like many Austronesian languages, indefiniteness in Sundanese is most often encoded via existential predication, reduplication of interrogatives, and co-occurrence of interrogatives and special particles with additive and downward entailing functions. Example (40) demonstrates indefinite pronouns formulated through the existential *aya* and the relativizer *(a)nu*. The tendency for existentials to code indefinite pronouns has also been

observed in Tagalog, Cebuano, and other languages of the Philippines, as well as in Oceanic languages (Haspelmath 1997).

- (40) a. **Aya** nu dongkap.
EX REL come
'Someone came.' (lit. 'There are that came.')
- b. **Teu aya** nu dongkap.
NEG EX REL come
'No one came.' (lit. 'There was not that came.')
- c. **Aya** nu bisa di-béré-keun.
EX REL can PASS-give-APPL
'Something can be given.' (lit. 'There is that can be given.')
- d. **Teu aya** nu bisa di-béré-keun.
NEG EX REL can PASS-give-APPL
'Nothing can be given. (lit. 'There is naught that can be given.')

Quantification can additionally be encoded through both full reduplication and partial reduplication of interrogatives. The latter is more common, probably due to phonological reduction. Where partial reduplication is found, it is the first syllable that repeats, as shown in Table 1 below.

Table 1: Simplex interrogatives and reduplicated interrogatives

<i>Saha</i>	'who'	<i>saha-saha/ sasaha</i>	'everyone'
<i>Naon</i>	'what'	<i>naon-naon/ nanaon</i>	'everything'
<i>Iraha</i>	'when'	<i>iraha-iraha/*ir-iraha</i>	'every time'
<i>Ka mana</i>	'where to'	<i>ka mana mana/ ka mamana</i>	'to everywhere'
<i>Di mana</i>	'where at'	<i>di mana mana/ di mamana</i>	'(at) everywhere'

The reduplicated interrogatives most frequently occur in negative declarative utterances, given that reduplication is one means that is sensitive to negation and other polarity phenomena. This is demonstrated in (41) below, where each utterance is used in emphatic, newsworthy contexts.

- (41) a. Manéh **teu** terang **na-naon** ngeunaan bisnis!
2SG NEG know RED-what about business
'You don't know anything about business!'
- b. Manéhna **teu** resep ka **sa-saha**!
3SG NEG like to RED-who
'She doesn't like anyone!'

- c. Tata **teu** boga **na-naon**!
Tata NEG have RED-what
'Tata doesn't have anything!'
- d. Galuh **teu** ka **ma-mana**!
Galuh NEG to RED-where
'Galuh didn't go anywhere!' (Butters 2021: 172)

The reduplicated interrogatives can also appear in affirmative declaratives, as in (42).

- (42) a. Anjeun terang **na-naon** tentang bisnis.
2SG know RED-what about business
'You know many things about business.'
- b. Manéhna resep ka **sa-saha**.
3SG like to RED-who
'She likes everyone.'
- c. Tata boga **na-naon**.
Tata have RED-what
'Tata has everything.'
- d. Galuh ka **ma-mana**.
Galuh to RED-where
'Galuh goes everywhere.' (Butters 2021: 172)

The reduplicated interrogatives are used fairly infrequently in questions, except when they occur in phrase initial position, as demonstrated by the reduplication of *saha* 'who' in (43). There appear to be slightly different functions encoded in the examples below; in (43a) plurality of subjects is encoded, while in (43b) specificity is encoded.

- (43) a. **Saha-saha** nu ulin di buruan?
who-RED REL play LOC yard
'Who all is playing in the yard?'
- b. **Saha-saha** nu meupeues-keun kaca?
who-RED REL ACT.break-APPL glass
'Who exactly was it that broke the glass?' (Butters 2021: 173)

More commonly, interrogatives are followed by the minimizing particle *wé/waé/ baé* 'just, merely, only', as in (44).

- (44) a. Emangna manéh terang **naon waé** tentang bisnis?
indeed 2SG know what just about business
'Truly, what all do you know about business?'
b. Manéhna resep ka **saha waé**?
3SG like to who just
'Who all does she like?' (Butters 2021: 178, 179)

The same construction encodes free-choice in declarative utterances, as in (45).

- (45) a. **Saha wé** bisa nga-lapor ka kantor polisi.
who just can ACT-report to office police
'Anybody at all can report to the police office.'
b. Manéh tiasa dongkap ka bumi abdi **iraha waé**.
2SG can come to house 1SG when just
'You can come to my house anytime.' (Butters 2021: 178)

In the negative, expressions with *waé* appear to be strongly dispreferred while reduplicated interrogatives commonly appear with negators, as in (46a). The interrogative can be used with *waé* under the scope of negation if more information follows, as in (46b). However, the use of *waé* with interrogatives is most felicitous in concessive utterances, as in (46c), where the interrogative + *waé* occur outside the scope of negation.

- (46) a. Abdi mah **teu** tiasa ningali **na-naon**!
1SG DP NEG can see RED-what
'I can't see anything!'
b. Abdi mah **teu** tiasa ningali **naon waé** nu aya di dieu.
1SG DP NEG can see what just REL EX LOC here
'I can't see anything that is here.'
c. **Naon waé** nu aya di dieu **teu** ka-tingali ku abdi.
what just REL EX LOC here NEG PASS-see by 1SG
'Whatever was here was not seen by me.' (Butters 2021: 179)

It appears that expressions with *waé* are less compatible with negation given that *waé* is already downward entailing. I return to the importance of reduplication in polarity readings in §4.2.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking (abessives/caritives/privatives)

Most frequently, ‘without’ is expressed through a periphrastic expression wherein the negator precedes the polite *ngagunakeun* ‘use’ (or the colloquial *make* ‘use’), as in (47b).

- (47) a. Anjeuna tuang **nga-guna-keun** sendok.
 3SG eat ACT-use-APPL spoon
 ‘S/he eats with a spoon.’
 b. Anjeuna tuang **teu nga-guna-keun** sendok.
 3SG eat NEG ACT-use-APPL spoon
 ‘S/he eats without a spoon.’

It is also possible to negate the comitative *sareng*, as in (48). This strategy can be employed for both animate and inanimate entities.

- (48) a. Abdi nga-leueut kopi **teu sareng** gula.
 1SG ACT-drink coffee NEG COM sugar
 ‘I drink coffee without sugar.’
 b. Abdi maehan rusa **teu sareng** amang abdi.
 1SG hunt deer NEG COM uncle 1SG
 ‘I hunt deer without my uncle.’
 c. Abdi bakal nyeri haté pisan lamun hirup **teu sareng** pun bapak.
 1SG FUT sick liver very if live NEG COM HON father
 ‘I would be so very sick to my heart if I had to live without my father.’
 (49) Barudak sadayana ningali abdi téh meni **teu leupas-leupas**.
 child.PL all ACT.look 1SG DP very NEG release-RED
 ‘All the children looked at me ceaselessly.’

At the lexical level, the verbal negator is used to mark absence, as demonstrated in (49).

Alternatively, as shown in (50), the negative existential predicators can be used to encode absence when preceding a noun, a cross-linguistically common expression described in Veselinova (2013b). In (50b) it is ungrammatical to leave *aya* out.

- (50) a. Manéhna gawé **euweuh** ka-capé nga-jelang acara pernikahan.
 3SG work NEG.EX NMLZ-tired ACT-approach event wedding
 ‘She worked tirelessly leading up to the wedding.’

- b. Pun bapak **teu** aya ka-capé nga-damel karanjang siang wengi.
 HON father NEG EX NMLZ-tired ACT-work basket day night
 ‘My dad doesn’t feel tired making a basket all day.’ (Butters 2021: 110)

Finally, the form *béak* ‘finished, used up, elapsed’ encodes absence, e.g. *béak tanaga* ‘powerless’, *béak napas* ‘breathless’, *béak déngkak* ‘at wit’s end.’

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

As indicated in §2.1, the standard negator (*hen*)*teu* most commonly has scope over verbs and adjectives; however, it also has scope over adverbs (e.g., *teu énjing* ‘not tomorrow’), numerals (e.g., *teu hiji* ‘not one’), and interrogatives like *naon* ‘what’ (e.g., *teu naon* ‘no problem’). In some situations, the scope of the negator cannot be determined syntactically, as analysis depends on context. For instance, the interpretation of (51) is ambiguous, given the sensitivity of reduplicated interrogatives to negation.

- (51) Lami **teu** aya na-naon urang tiasa papendak deui énjing.
 if NEG EX RED-what person.1PL can meet again tomorrow
 ‘If it is no problem (with you), we can meet again tomorrow.’ / ‘If there is nothing going on, we can meet again tomorrow.’

Negative tags can also result in ambiguity given that they are of the same form as the standard negator. In (52a) the negator can either be interpreted as a tag or as a standard negator with scope only over the predicate that follows it. Meanwhile, (52b) unambiguously has sentential scope.

- (52) a. Manéhna resep ngi-num téh **henteu** maké gula.
 3SG like ACT-drink tea NEG use sugar
 ‘He likes to drink tea, does he not, with sugar.’ / ‘He likes to drink tea without sugar.’
 b. Manéhna resep nginum téh maké gula **henteu**?
 3SG like ACT.drink tea use sugar NEG
 ‘He likes to drink tea with sugar, doesn’t he?’

The ambiguity of (52a) is resolved through prosody, including a pause before the negator accompanied by upward intonation if it is a tag.

4.2 Negative polarity

This section examines the contribution of two particles in particular to the polarity of an utterance. The first particle, *ogé/ gé* ‘too, also’, functions as both an additive particle and a focus particle, in the sense of König (1991). The interpretation of the particle is entirely pragmatically dependent, as demonstrated in (53). Indeed, it is rarely possible to determine the precise meaning of the particle without knowledge of preceding utterances.

- (53) Anjeuna **ogé** hoyong masihan kabar ka urang!
 3SG too want ACT.give news to person.1PL
 ‘He also wanted to tell us something!’ / ‘HE wanted to tell us something!’
 (Butters 2021: 184)

Ogé is sensitive to scalar semantics, where a scale is a set of contrastive expressions of the same category that can be arranged in linear order according to semantic strength (Horn 1972, Gazdar 1979). The examples in (54) include elicited utterances with *ogé* in both affirmative and negative contexts. While in the affirmative, *ogé* serves as an ordinary additive/focus particle, in the negative it combines with elements that are quantitatively low on a scale like *hiji* ‘one’, *sakeudik* ‘little’, or the indefinite suffix *sa-* to create a highly newsworthy reading.

- (54) a. Anjeunna **ogé** luka saeutik.
 3SG too hurt little
 ‘HE was a little hurt.’ / ‘He too was a little hurt.’
 b. Anjeunna **henteu** luka saeutik **ogé**!
 3SG NEG hurt little too
 ‘He wasn’t even a bit hurt!’
 c. Abdi **ogé** nyandak **hiji** pulpén.
 1SG too ACT.bring one pen
 ‘I brought a pen.’ / ‘I too brought a pen.’
 d. Aduh poho pisan abdi **teu** nyandak **hiji** **pulpen ogé**!
 DP forget very 1SG NEG bring one pen too
 ‘Oh I forgot! I didn’t bring a single pen!’ (Butters 2021: 184)

An even more pragmatically marked reading is achieved if the minimal unit expression is fronted, as in (55). The particle *deui* ‘again’ can precede *ogé* in such instances for greater emphasis.

- (55) **Sa-pérak** deui **ogé** manéhna **teu** boga!
INDF-silver more too 3SG NEG have
'He doesn't have a single coin (lit. piece of silver) more!' (Butters 2021: 184)

A second polarity sensitive item is the additive scalar particle *(a)can*, which, as demonstrated in §2.1, is also used to code NOT YET. *Acan* is productive in negative expressions that co-occur with reduplication. The meaning of examples (56) are the same as the negative expressions that used *ogé* above.

- (56) a. Anjeuna **teu** luka saeutik-eutik **acan**!
3SG NEG hurt INDF-little-RED PHPC
'He wasn't even a bit hurt!'
b. Aduh abdi poho pisan **teu** nga-bawa pulpen hiji-hiji **acan**!
DP 1SG forget very NEG ACT-bring pen one-RED PHPC
'Oh I forgot! I didn't bring a single pen!' (Butters 2021: 185)

As evident in examples (56) as well as the reduplication of interrogatives in §3.2, reduplication is an important means in Sundanese to specify scalar readings. The inherently augmenting semantics of reduplication serve to specify an extreme end on a scale of possibility.

I return to a discussion of the role played by *acan* in 'not yet' in §4.6.3.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

There do not appear to be any effects on the marking of NPs in the scope of negation.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

There are several means through which negation is reinforced in Sundanese. The use of polarity sensitive particles was already discussed in §4.2. Negative reinforcement can also be achieved through the addition of *pisan* 'very' or *meni* 'very' which can be used in both affirmative and negative contexts. Examples (54a-b) demonstrate *pisan* in negative contexts, and (57c) shows both *pisan* and *meni* used in the same utterance.

- (57) a. Abdi **teu** resep **pisan** ka manéhna.
1SG NEG like very to 3SG
'I don't like him at all/much.'

- b. Abdi **teu** tiasa hilap **pisan**.
 1SG NEG can forget very
 ‘I can’t forget at all.’
- c. **Meni teu aya** sa-potong omong-an **pisan** deui dosén éta
 very NEG EX INDF-slice talk-NMLZ very more instructor DEM
 nyandak murid-murid-na indit.
 bring student-RED-DEF go
 ‘Without saying a single word more, that instructor took his students away.’

Negation can also be reinforced through the emphatic marker *teuing* ‘too, overly’, which directly follows verbs or negative lexemes like *tara* ‘never’, demonstrated in (58). It can be used in both affirmative and negative contexts.

- (58) a. Urang **teu** kudu hariwang **teuing**.
 person.1PL NEG must worry too
 ‘We need not worry too much.’
- b. Teu nyaho **teuing**!
 NEG know too
 ‘I know absolutely nothing!’
- c. Tara **teuing**!
 never too
 ‘Never ever!’

Another construction is the postponement of the verbal negator (*hen*)*teu* to the final position in the utterance, as demonstrated in (59a). The scalar additive particle *ogé* ‘too’ focuses the proposition under consideration, *geulis* ‘beautiful’, which is then rejected resoundingly. This is in contrast with the ordinary negation of attribution, as shown in (59b), which does not carry the same pragmatic force.

- (59) a. Manéhna geulis ogé **henteu**!
 3SG beautiful too NEG
 ‘She’s not even beautiful!’
- b. Manéhna **henteu** geulis.
 3SG NEG beautiful
 ‘She is not beautiful.’

Finally, negation is reinforced through the form *sama sakali* ‘at all’, which appears only in negative or downward entailing environments. The form can occur before the negator, as in (60), but also in sentence-initial position, sentence final position, or after the verb.

- (60) Abdi **sama sa-kali** **teu** nga-gantung ka manéhna.
 1SG same INDF-time NEG ACT-hang to 3SG
 ‘I don’t depend on her at all.’

The form *sama sekali* exists in Standard Indonesian as well. As with the softening device, *kirang* ‘less’ mentioned in §2.6, the direction of influence is unclear.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Two nominal phrases are typically coordinated simply by occurring side-by-side, as in (61).

- (61) a. Manéhna **sanés** lalaki manéhna awéwé.
 3SG NEG man 3SG woman
 ‘He is not a man, he is a woman.’
 b. Manéhna lalaki **sanés** awéwé.
 3SG woman NEG man
 ‘He is a man, not a woman.’

In §2.3, I demonstrated that the use of nominal negation with attributes encodes contrastive negation. A second strategy for marking contrastive negation employs the verbal negator in the first proposition and *malah* ‘even’ in the second, as in (62).

- (62) a. Manéhna **teu** manggil polisi manéhna **malah** manggil kepala désa.
 3SG NEG call police 3SG even ACT.call head village
 ‘S/he didn’t call the police, but rather the village head.’
 b. Putri **henteu** se-seurian **malah** jadi pucet.
 Putri NEG RED-laugh even become pale
 ‘Putri didn’t laugh, but rather turned pale.’

Expressions of the type *neither ... nor* are formulated with the co-occurrence of the negator and the comitative *sareng* ‘with, and’, as in (63a), which is contrasted with the use of *sareng* in an affirmative utterance, as in (63b).

- (63) a. Abdi mah **teu** gaduh ketan bodas **sareng** ketan hideung.
 1SG DP NEG have sticky.rice white COM sticky.rice black
 ‘I have neither white sticky rice, nor black sticky rice.’
- b. Abdi mah gaduh ketan bodas **sareng** ketan hideung.
 1SG DP have sticky.rice white COM sticky.rice black
 ‘I have white sticky rice and black sticky rice.’

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

Negative transport (that is, negative-raising) occurs with verbs of desire like *hayang* ‘want, wish to’ (or the polite form, *hoyong*), as demonstrated in (64).

- (64) a. Urang teu hayang manéhna melak paré.
 person.1SG NEG want 3SG plant paddy
 ‘I don’t want him to plant paddy.’
- b. Urang hayang manéhna teu melak paré.
 person.1SG want 3SG NEG plant paddy
 ‘I want him to not plant paddy.’

4.6.2 Additional functions of the prohibitive

The prohibitives *ulah* and *tong* perform functions beyond simply marking the negative imperative described in §2.2. One such function is to reject an option from a series of possible choices. For instance, (65a) was uttered when a speaker rejected the author’s proposal of a meeting time, while (65b) was said during a conversation between two women when a yellow sarong (chosen from a collection of sarongs) was rejected for purchase.

- (65) a. **Ulah** wengi ieu.
 PROH night DEM
 ‘Not tonight.’
- b. **Ulah** (anu) konéng moronyoy teuing.
 PROH REL yellow bright too
 ‘Not the yellow (one), it’s too bright.’ (Butters 2021: 152)

Additionally, the prohibitive *ulah* can be embedded in an utterance where it behaves more like a standard negator. In (66a) it is fronted by a proposition expressing deontic modality, and in (66b) it follows the coordinator *asal* ‘as long as’.

- (66) a. Langkung saé manéhna **ulah** ng-ereun-keun kécap batur.
 more good 3SG PROH ACT-interrupt-APPL words others
 ‘It’s better that he doesn’t interrupt others.’ (Butters 2021: 155)
- b. Manéhna natap ka mana waé asal **ulah** ka arah Udin.
 3SG look to where just as.long.as PROH to direction Udin
 ‘He looked anywhere except at Udin.’ / ‘He looked anywhere but at Udin.’ (Butters 2021: 156)

A final special construction is the use of the prohibitive *ulah* with the particle *ogé* to mean ‘never mind X’, as demonstrated in (67). Note that in rural areas of West Java where the expression was uttered, cassava is much more widely available than water spinach.

- (67) **Ulah** gé sayur kangkong singkong **ogé** abdi teu boga!
 PROH too vegetable spinach cassava too 1SG NEG have
 ‘Never mind water spinach, I don’t even have cassava!’ (Butters 2021: 159)

4.6.3 Diachronic notes and observations

This chapter has demonstrated the presence of a diverse set of negators with multivariant functions. In the interest of space, the focus of this diachronic section will be on two areas of Sundanese negation discussed thus far: 1) the productive distinction between the verbal and nominal negator, and 2) the development of ‘not yet’.

The distinction between the Sundanese verbal negator, *(hen)teu*, and the nominal negators, *lain* or *sanés*, was described earlier in the chapter. The distinction is presented again here for clarity.

- (68) a. Manéhna **(hen)teu** leutik.
 3SG NEG small
 ‘S/he is not small.’
- b. Manéhna **lain** lalaki leutik.
 3SG NEG man small
 ‘He is not a small man.’

The existence of a distinction between verbal and nominal negators is extremely common in Indonesian languages. In Sundanese, the nominal negators have the additional transparent lexical meaning of ‘other, different’ – a use that is retained in contemporary speech, as demonstrated in (69). It is also attested in verbs like *ngalainkeun* ‘to other, to give the cold shoulder to’.

- (69) Éta mah **lain** deui.
 DEM DP different again
 ‘That’s entirely different.’ (Butters 2021: 61)

The grammaticalization of the lexeme ‘other’ to a negator of nominal predicates is widely attested in other Western Malayo-Polynesian languages – an understandable development given that to be ‘other than X’ is equal to ‘not be X’. The use of *lain* as a negator was already present in the Old Sundanese manuscript, *The sons of Rama and Rawana*, which probably dates from around the 16th century. An example from this manuscript is shown in (70), taken from the transliteration of this work.

- (70) Lun aing **lain** na seuweu.
 if 1SG NEG LIG son
 ‘If I’m not your son.’ (Noorduyn & Teeuw 2006: 206).

It is difficult to determine precisely how long the distinction between the nominal and the verbal negator has existed, but its presence can be accounted for by the different functions performed by the two sets of negators. The nominal negator possesses the special function of encoding contrastive negation, which is less effectively encoded by the verbal negator. Moreover, the use of *lain* and *sanés* as a rhetorical negative tag entails prior expectation on the part of the speaker. There are, therefore, important semantic and pragmatic distinctions between these negators to maintain this distinction.

A second area worthy of greater discussion is the development of ‘not yet’ in Sundanese, which, as presented in §2.1, can be encoded by *teu (a)can*, *tacan*, or *can* alone, as demonstrated again for clarity in (71).

- (71) Manéhna **tacan** saré.
 3SG not.yet sleep
 ‘He has not slept yet.’

In §4.2, I presented a function of *(a)can* beyond its use in NOT YET; like *ogé*, *(a)can* has additive functions and can be used to reinforce negation in highly newsworthy contexts. Unlike *ogé*, *(a)can* is sensitive to reduplication, as demonstrated again in (72).

- (72) a. Teu bisa nulis-nulis **acan**!
 NEG can ACT.write-RED PHPC
 ‘(I) can’t even write!’

- b. Teu apal laptop-laptop **acan**!
 NEG know laptop-RED PHPC
 ‘(I) don’t even know what laptops are!’

When the preceding element is not reduplicated, as in (73b), the reinforcing particle *pisan* is used.

- (73) a. Abdi teu bisa dahar-dahar **acan**.
 1SG NEG can eat-RED PHPC
 ‘I couldn’t even eat.’
 b. Abdi teu bisa dahar **pisan**.
 1SG NEG can eat very
 ‘I couldn’t eat at all.’ (Butters 2021: 93)

Hardjadibrata (2003: 2) suggests that when *acan* occurs in affirmative contexts following reduplication, the interpretation is that a situation still holds true, as in (74),⁶ with the author’s own glossing.

- (74) Manéhna di sawah-sawah **acan**.
 3SG LOC paddy.field-RED PHPC
 ‘He is still in the rice fields.’ (Hardjadibrata 2003: 2)

Consultants do not accept (74) but are fine with the same expression occurring in the negative, as in (75), where the understanding is that someone has broken their daily expected habit of going to the paddy fields.

- (75) Manéhna **teu** di sawah-sawah **acan**.
 3SG NEG LOC paddy.field-RED PHPC
 ‘He is not even in the paddy fields.’ (He can’t be seen there at all) (Butters 2021: 93)

König & Traugott (1982: 170) described the close historical relationship between ‘still’ and ‘yet’ in English, defining ‘still’ as “continuation without boundary” and ‘yet’ as “continuation up to an imminent boundary/change”. The authors suggest that the shared quality of continuation has resulted in frequent overlap in meanings in English but not true convergence. In a study of phasal polarity in Malayo-Polynesian languages, Veselinova et al. (2024: 15) observe the

⁶It should be noted that Hardjadibrata (2003) is a translation of Eringa (1984), written in Dutch. The expression is thus older than would be suggested by the publication date.

frequent presence of periphrastic expressions of ‘not yet’ consisting of internally negated ‘still’ expressions, noting that such constructions “express the continuation of a non-realized situation and as such demonstrate the direct relation between the concepts of ‘still’ and ‘not yet’ as well as their encoding. In many languages what had initially been a periphrastic expression became fused into univerbations with various degrees of transparency.”

The examples presented in this chapter for the Sundanese *acan* also appear to suggest the direct relationship between ‘still’ and ‘not yet’. An additional clue to the early meaning of *acan* is evident in an archaic entry in Kamus Besar Bahasa Indonesia (KBBI) for the Indonesian *mengacan* meaning ‘to hope for’ or ‘to aspire to’. The appearance of *acan* in a closely related language reflects the early use of the word for an unrealized state of affairs, further elucidating the relationship between ‘still not’ and ‘not yet’.

5 Conclusion

The negative forms and functions discussed in this chapter are summarized in Table 2.

Key points of this chapter include the demonstration that Sundanese negation makes a productive distinction for verbal vs. nominal predicates, for certain areas of tense and aspect, and for certain realms of cognition and volition. Additionally, Sundanese possesses special prohibitive forms which participate in environments beyond imperative mood. Existential, locative, and possessive predication all make use of the same existential and negative existential predicators, though such a use is only obligatory in the former category, while it is optional in the latter categories. Polarity phenomena in Sundanese relies on reduplication, specifically the reduplication of interrogatives, as well as the use of scalar additive particles and downward entailing particles. Future work might devote more attention to the precise source of some of the negators discussed herein, drawing from a larger body of Old Sundanese manuscripts.

Acknowledgments

This research was funded by a Boren Fellowship (2018) and a Luce Fellowship from AIFIS, The American Institute for Indonesian Studies (Spring 2020). I am extremely thankful to all who patiently assisted me during the course of this research, especially Muchlis Julianda Situmorang. The chapter also benefitted from the helpful comments of anonymous reviewers.

Table 2: Sundanese negators and functions

Negator	Function
<i>(hen)teu</i>	Standard negation 'not anymore' [NEG 'again'] 'Not yet' [NEG scalar additive particle] 'Never' [NEG perfect] Neutral negative tag Negator of attributes 'No' Negative quantifier [NEG INTER-RED] 'Without' [NEG COM] or [NEG 'use']
<i>Lain, sanés</i>	Negator of equative predications Negator of proper inclusion Rhetorical negative tag Negative reply "No"
<i>Moal</i>	Negative future
<i>Tara</i>	'Never'
<i>Teu acan, tacan, can</i>	'Not yet' Negative polarity item
<i>Alim</i>	'Not want'
<i>Duka</i>	'Not know, who knows'
<i>Ulah, tong</i>	Prohibitive Rejection of a choice
<i>Teu aya, taya, euweuh</i>	Standard negation in embedded clauses Negative existential predication Locative predication (optional) Locative presentative predication Possessive predication Negative quantifier Negative derivation
<i>Kirang</i>	Standard negation (polite)

Abbreviations

1	first person	INDF	indefinite
2	second person	LIG	ligature
3	third person	LOC	locative
APPL	applicative	NEG	negative
ACT	active	NMLZ	nominalizer
COMP	complementizer	PHPC	phasal popularity with
COM	comitative		continuity
DEF	definite	PL	plural
DEM	demonstrative	POSS	possessive
DP	discourse particle	PRF	perfective
EX	existential	PROH	prohibitive
FUT	future	PASS	passive
HON	honorific	RED	reduplication
HORT	hortative	REL	relative
IAM	iamitive	SG	singular

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Negation in Dorig

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Dorig, an Oceanic language spoken on Gaua island in northern Vanuatu, shows a wealth of constructions for encoding negative polarity. Verbs contrast 14 positive TAM categories with 9 negative; together, these form a “TAMP” [tense–aspect–mood–polarity] system made of 23 portmanteau categories. All negative TAMP morphemes are formally discontinuous, and synchronically non-compositional. Standard negation shows several forms of structural asymmetries, both constructional and paradigmatic, across polarities. Besides standard negation, Dorig has separate constructions for negating non-verbal predicates, existentials, locatives, and imperatives. While this study highlights the intricacy of negative structures in this particular language, it places them in their typological and areal contexts. Thanks to comparative tables showing all negative morphemes in the 17 languages of the Torres and Banks islands, it becomes clear that Dorig is mostly representative of regional patterns in north Vanuatu.

Keywords: negation, asymmetry of TAM systems, non-verbal predicates, Oceanic languages, Vanuatu.

1 Introduction

The present chapter examines the grammar of negation in Dorig, an Oceanic language of Vanuatu. Like other chapters in this volume, this study follows closely the structure of the typological questionnaire designed by the editors (Miestamo 2025) – including in the order and numbering of sections.

1.1 Context and sources

Dorig (ISO: [wwo](#), Glottocode: [weta1242](#)) is one of five languages spoken on the island of Gaua, in the Banks islands of northern Vanuatu (see Figure 1). Like all the 138 indigenous languages of the Vanuatu archipelago (François et al. 2015),

Alexandre François. 2025. Negation in Dorig. In Matti Miestamo & Ljuba Veselinova (eds.), *Negation book*, 969–1026. Berlin: Language Science Press.

DOI: [??](#) 

Dorig belongs to the Oceanic subgroup of the Austronesian phylum. More specifically, Dorig forms part of a dialect chain that goes around the island of Gaua – itself a portion of the broader Torres–Banks linkage (François 2014: 182).

The language's 300 speakers live mostly in the village of *Dōrig* [ˈdɔriɻ] on Gaua's south coast; they entertain social and linguistic ties with their immediate neighbours on the island. The two languages genealogically closest to Dorig, as measured using Historical Glottometry, are Nume and Koro (François 2016b: 56; Kalyan & François 2018: 79).

The grammar of negation shows considerable cross-linguistic variation across the vast Oceanic family (see Hovdhaugen & Mosel 1999), to say nothing of the broader Austronesian phylum (see Vossen & van der Auwera 2014) – so the present study should not be taken as representative of such large ensembles. That said, Dorig can be seen as quite typical of the grammatical structures found in its local environment of Vanuatu (especially the Torres & Banks languages) as it shares most of their semantic categories and formal tendencies; and yet, Dorig presents several structural features that make it an original system.

Apart from a wordlist under the obsolete glossonym Wetamut (Tryon 1976), nothing was known of Dorig until I conducted fieldwork on it, as part of my 2003 survey of Banks languages. I was only able to stay in the Dorig area for nine days altogether (4–12 August 2003), with no opportunity of returning there since, due to uneasy access; a second trip scheduled in 2011 was finally cancelled due to the lack of reliable transportation.

My 2003 stay allowed me to record substantial data, thanks to my in-depth knowledge of neighbouring languages, and to the “conversational questionnaire” I had designed for that purpose (François 2019). This data collection method was supplemented by language immersion, as I began to speak and understand the language in its daily context, taking field notes and recording the spontaneous speech of native speakers. Out of 151' of various recordings, I transcribed 67' of narratives: this yielded a corpus of 13 texts totalling 14,300 words, partially published as François (2008), and archived online.¹ The examples cited in this study come either from my field notes or from that text corpus.² Whenever possible, I will provide permanent (DOI) links to sentences in their original context.³

¹My audio recordings are freely accessible at <https://pangloss.cnrs.fr/corpus/Dorig>.

²Labels of the type [AF.BP3.30b] – as in sentences (13), (20), (46) – refer to my field notes; these are archived at <https://www.odsas.net/>. Labels of the type [Drg.d04.Kava:41] – as in (23), (36–38), (47), (70) – are taken from my field questionnaire, which can be accessed at https://tiny.cc/AF_Q_Dorig.

³If an example is followed by an anchor icon ⚓ and a string of characters, adding that string to the prefix <https://doi.org/10.24397/pangloss-000> yields a valid DOI identifier. For example, {⚓3195#S5} yields the URL <https://doi.org/10.24397/pangloss-0003195#S5>.

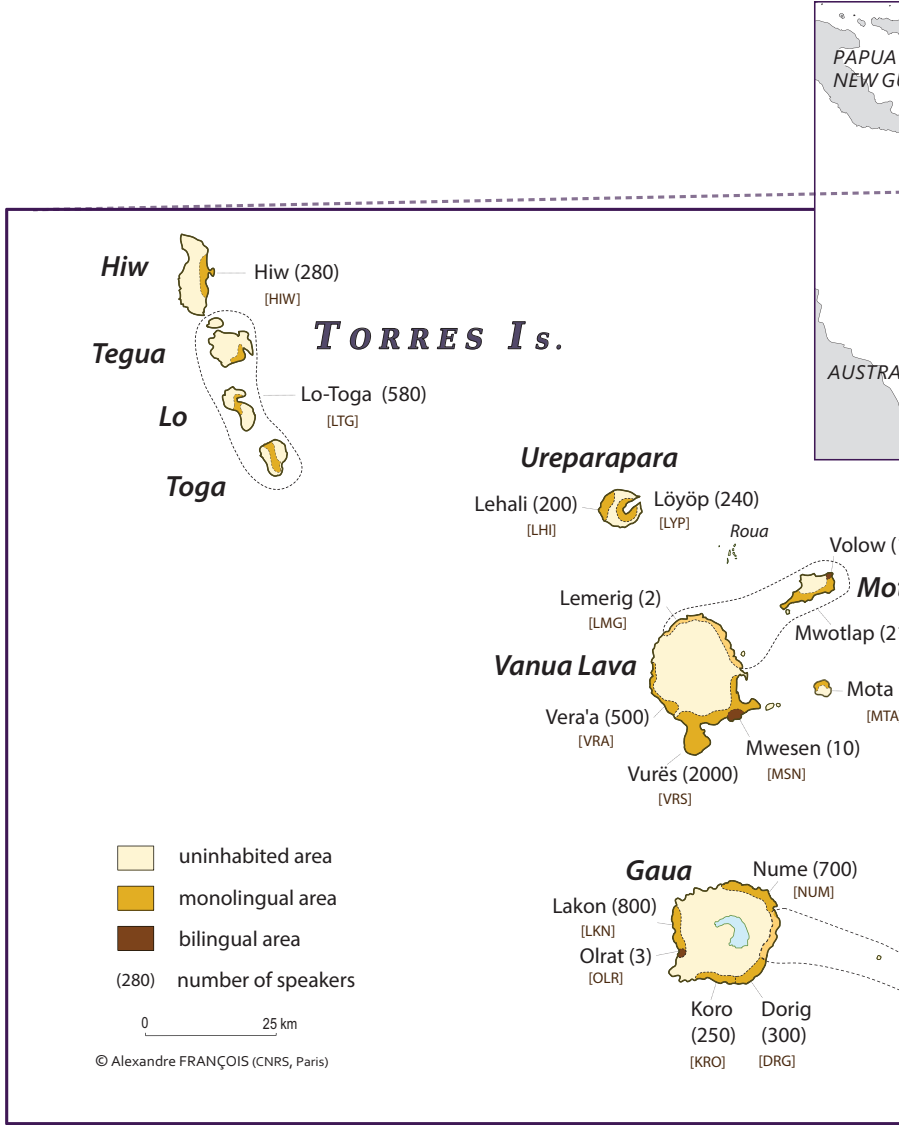


Figure 1: Location of Dorig (Gaua, Banks Islands) in northern Vanuatu

This is the first ever publication dedicated entirely to the Dorig language. That said, I have presented various aspects of it in my comparative studies of the Torres–Banks area: this includes information on Dorig’s phonology, with a focus on its CCVC syllabic template (François 2010: 407–408); on its vowel system (François 2005b: 461, 491); on its noun articles (François 2007); its possessive morphology (François 2005b: 486); its space system (François 2015); and its personal pronouns (François 2016b). As for the data I will provide on other languages of the Banks and Torres Islands [§4.6.3, Appendix], their main source will be my own field notes and publications; the reader is also referred to the description of Vera’a by Schnell (2011), and the grammar of Vurës by Malau (2016).

1.2 Grammatical overview

Let us begin with a short grammatical overview of Dorig, focusing on the elements relevant to the present study on negation. Dorig forms will be spelled in the language’s orthography, following the conventions in Table 1.

Table 1: Orthographical conventions for Dorig

orth	<i>a</i>	<i>ā</i>	<i>b</i>	<i>d</i>	<i>e</i>	<i>ē</i>	<i>g</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>k</i>	<i>l</i>	<i>m</i>	<i>m̃</i>
IPA	a	aː	^m b	ⁿ d	ɛ	ɪ	ɣ	i	k	l	m	^ŋ _{m^w}
orth	<i>n</i>	<i>n̄</i>	<i>o</i>	<i>ō</i>	<i>q</i>	<i>r</i>	<i>s</i>	<i>t</i>	<i>u</i>	<i>v</i>	<i>w</i>	
IPA	n	ŋ	ɔ	ʊ	^k p ^w	r	s	t	u	v	w	

Dorig has a CCVC syllabic template, with optional consonants (François 2010: 407): e.g. *āv* [aːv] ‘fire’, *loq* [lɔ^kp^w] ‘wet’, *wrēt* [wɾɪt] ‘squid’, *rqa* [r^kp^wa] ‘woman’, *tger* [tɣɛr] ‘disappear’, *m̄kār* [ŋ^{m̄}kaːr] ‘flying fish’.

Several prefixes have a form c(v)- with an elidable vowel: e.g. *m(e)-* ‘Perfect’, *s(o)-* ‘Irrealis’, *v(a)-* ‘Stative’, *v(e)-* ‘Attributive’. The prefix vowel normally elides when the first syllable of the phonological word can accommodate a c- prefix into the maximal ccvc template: *m(e)- + tur* ‘stand’ → *m-tur* [mtur] ‘stood’. By contrast, when a verb already starts in a consonant cluster (e.g. *tvig* ‘bury’), the prefix will surface as cv-, revealing its underlying vowel (e.g. *me-tvig* ‘buried’, *so-tvig* ‘will bury’).

Morphemes of the form c(v)- with an elidable vowel qualify as prefixes, because their surface shape is determined by syllabification rules that apply at the higher level of the phonological word. In addition, Dorig also has cv morphemes whose surface form is independent of the next morpheme: I will analyse them as

proclitics, or simply particles. For example, while the Irrealis *s(o)-* is a prefix, the homophonous Sequential aspect, with its fixed shape *so* [sɔ], is better analysed as a particle rather than an affix. Compare *s(o)-* ‘Irrealis’ in (1) with *so* ‘Sequential’ in (2): these are two distinct morphemes, in shape and in meaning.

- (1) Na *s-wōr* bas nēr nēr *s-mat*.
 1SG IRR-bewitch all 3PL 3PL IRR-die
 ‘I would bewitch them all so they’d die.’ {~~3~~3195#S5}
- (2) Ni me-tmarga, ni *so* mat.
 3SG PRF-old.man 3SG SEQ die
 ‘He got old, and then died.’ {~~3~~3195#S26}

These notes on the morphophonology of Dorig will be relevant when discussing negation – in particular, when analysing morphemes as affixes or particles.

Dorig is an SVO language with fixed word order. Simple verbal clauses follow the general template in Figure 2, where the pointy brackets indicate the limits of the verb phrase:

subject < TAMP₁ verb postverb TAMP₂ > *object* adjuncts

Figure 2: Structure of the verb phrase

The predicate head is always the first (most leftward) lexical element after the subject. As for the (emically defined) class “postverb”, it includes words whose function is to modify the verb head inside the verb phrase.⁴ Postverbs are optional, and immediately follow the predicate head. They may correspond to English manner adverbs – cf. (9) *tavul* ‘well’ – or floating quantifiers – (1) *bas* ‘all’ – among others. The postverbal slot can also be occupied by a second verb, in a serial verb construction – as in (8) or (47) below.

Dorig collapses into a single paradigm the categories of Tense, Aspect, Mood, and Polarity. It is thus best described as a “TAMP” system⁵ – hence the slots labelled TAMP₁ and TAMP₂ in Figure 2. A given predicate inflects for only one TAMP category at a time: e.g. a verb takes either the (positive, realis) Perfect *m(e)-* or the (positive) Irrealis *s(o)-*, but it cannot combine them. All TAMP morphemes will

⁴This lexical class of VP-internal “postverb” (sometimes called “VP-internal adverb” or “adjunct”) is found in all northern Vanuatu languages (cf. François 2004: 137–142; François 2017: 316; Schnell 2011: 91; Malau 2016: 122–124; Rangelov 2022; François & Krauß forthcoming).

⁵Malau (2016: 461) also describes the neighbouring language Vurës as having a “TAMP” system, for *Tense-Aspect-Mood-Polarity*.

be listed in Table 2 [§2.1.1]. Note that TAMP is always overt, and never encoded by zero; thus a sentence like (3) is ungrammatical – by contrast with overtly-marked predicates like (12a–12b):

- (3) *Na tek ni.
1SG see 3SG

The coding of TAMP usually involves a preverbal element TAMP₁, whether a prefix or a particle, as we saw with Perfect *m(e)-*, Irrealis *s(o)-*, Sequential *so*. Several TAMP morphemes are discontinuous or “bipartite”, involving a first element TAMP₁ (prefix or particle) plus a second element TAMP₂ (particle).⁶ Examples of discontinuous TAMP morphemes include the Potential *s(o)-... lala*, or the Imperfective *t(o)-... ti*:

- (4) [POTENTIAL]
Kmār <so-briñ lala> nēk.
1EXCL.DU POT₁-help POT₂ 2SG
‘We can help you.’ {±2306#S41}
- (5) [IMPERFECTIVE]
Rār <to-qlil ti> o matgassōñ.
3DU IPFV₁-roll IPFV₂ ART leaf.cone
‘They were rolling a leaf cone.’ {±2306#S16}
- (6) [IMPERFECTIVE]
Kma <t-var o masle bē neñ ti> kak ‘Krēwelav’.
1EXCL.PL IPFV₁-call ART path water DEM IPFV₂ QUOT (name)
‘We call that river “Krēwelav”.’ {±3254#S27}

When the verb is transitive, its object usually follows TAMP₂ as in (4) or (5); but it can also exceptionally precede it, as in (6).

As we’ll soon see, standard negation in Dorig always takes the form of bipartite morphemes, whose elements occupy the same slots as TAMP₁ and TAMP₂ in Figure 2. Throughout this study, I will make the choice to gloss TAMP morphemes, whether positive or negative, as bipartite – e.g. ‘POT₁-... POT₂’ for the Potential in (4) – even when one of their components can also occur on its own. This analytic decision is meant to avoid the trap of searching for compositionality

⁶The material in the TAMP₂ slot sometimes originates historically in a former postverb; but under a synchronic analysis, it can be shown to have grammaticalized into an obligatory component in a discontinuous TAMP morpheme.

when we're in fact dealing with entrenched, grammaticalised units of phraseology (François 2003: 31). This view can be taken as a *constructional* approach to morphosyntax – in the sense of the *Construction grammar* (Fillmore et al. 1988, Croft 2001, Barðdal et al. 2015); it will also guide my analysis of negation morphology.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Miestamo (2005: 39, 2007: 553) defines *standard negation* as “the basic means that languages have for negating declarative verbal main clauses”. Dorig has not one, but several morphemes that meet this definition, depending on the Tense-Aspect-Mood value of the verb.

2.1.1 Negation in declarative verbal main clauses: overview

An important characteristic of Dorig is that polarity (positive vs. negative) is really in-built inside the TAMP markers. For example, the Potential *s(o)*-... *lala* we saw in (4), or the Imperfective *t(o)*-... *ti* in (5), are incompatible with negation; they really stand for “positive potential” and “positive imperfective” respectively. Their negative counterpart is a different morpheme altogether, which is not compositional. And crucially, the relation between positive and negative TAMP categories is not a straightforward one: as we'll see in §2.1.2, the Dorig language shows a rich array of asymmetries between polarities.

Table 2 shows the complete TAMP system of Dorig, and gives a preliminary idea of how declarative verbal main clauses deal with polarity. The ellipsis “...” represents here the *verbal group*, i.e. the verbal head with its postverb(s), as per the formula in Figure 2. Whatever precedes “...” in Table 2 corresponds to TAMP₁ (whether a prefix or a particle); whatever follows it fits in the TAMP₂ slot. Some morphemes occur only in TAMP₁, others only in TAMP₂; discontinuous morphemes have morphological material on both sides of the verbal group.⁷ The following subsections will help understand this table, by describing the behaviour of negation in declarative verbal clauses. Certain labels will be explained later.⁸

⁷Vowels in round brackets correspond to the morpheme's underlying vowel, subject to regular elision [§1.2]. The consonant (v) in (v)te is simply optional [§2.1.6]. As for the square brackets seen in the Imperative, they indicate that the form is zero in the singular, but takes the form *ar* with a non-singular agent [§2.2.2]. Finally, the abbreviation RED in the Prohibitive indicates

HC: @Sebastian, please make this table look better (e.g. better vertical lines) (because it is not clear. But at least now I have the things where they should be. (in the original it IS also the case that things are not aligned, therefore all the multirows.)) + see one comment in the table directly

Table 2: The TAMP paradigm of Dorig, showing correspondences between positive and negative morphemes

Domain	Positive polarity		Negative polarity	
Realis	Sequential	<i>so ...</i>		
	Iamitive	<i>m(e)-... nok</i>	Nondumitive	<i>sowse ... te</i>
	Continuative	<i>... mlēti</i>	Discontinuative	<i>s(o)-... nok tēmē</i>
	Perfect	<i>m(e)-...</i>		
	Stative	<i>v(a)-...</i>		
	Imperfective	<i>t(o)-... ti</i>	Negative realis	<i>s(o)-... tēmē</i>
	Immediate past	<i>qra ... ti</i>		
Irrealis	Dilatory (realis, irrealis)	<i>qra ...</i>		
			Negative future	<i>(v)te ... tēmē</i>
	Irrealis	<i>s(o)-...</i>		<i>(v)te ..._{RED} te</i>
	Imperative	<i>[ar] ...</i>	Prohibitive	<i>~ tog v(a)-...</i>
	Hortative	<i>o ...</i>		<i>~ tog ... te</i>
	Potential	<i>s(o)-... lala</i>	Negative potential	<i>(v)te ... late</i>
	Counterfactual (apodosis)	<i>v(a)-...</i>		
	Counterfactual (protasis)	<i>vit ...</i>	Negative counterfactual	<i>vit (v)te ... te</i>

The table’s left-hand side lists the 14 affirmative TAMP markers: e.g. the Imperfective *t(o)-... ti* shown in (5–6) above. The right column then shows the nine corresponding negative TAMP morphemes. For example, the (positive) Potential *s(o)-... lala* seen in (4) maps onto the Negative potential *(v)te... late*. Evidently – as will be discussed in §2.1.4 – there is no one-to-one correspondence across polarities, neither in terms of morphology nor semantics.

As Table 2 shows, standard negation in Dorig always takes the form of a discontinuous morpheme, of the type {NEG₁ ... NEG₂}. This type of negative morpheme, known in the literature as “double negation” (Dahl 1979: 88), is present in about 10 percent of the world’s languages (Dryer 2013a) – cf. *ne... pas* in Standard French. So-called double negation is widespread in Vanuatu [see §4.6.3.1]: for instance, about nearby Vera’a [Figure 1], Schnell (2011: 31) notes: “All negative

that the verb head must show its reduplicated form [§2.2.2].

⁸ For “dilatory”, see fn.10. For “iamitive”, “nondumitive”, “continuative”, “discontinuative”, see §2.1.7.

TAM markers are circummorphemes”. The label “double negation” is misleading, as it seems to suggest a construction where polarity would be somehow encoded twice (cf. English *I cannot not call him*); yet this is not what happens with the morphemes we are discussing here. I prefer to simply describe them as discontinuous markers, in a way parallel to some of the positive TAM morphemes [§1.2].

The two elements of each negative morpheme occupy the same slots as the TAM markers {TAMP₁ ... TAMP₂} in Figure 2 [§1.2]. The object phrase, whether it is an NP or a pronoun, is usually located outside the boundaries of negation, after NEG₂, just like we saw in (4) for the positive potential. Sentences (7a) and (8a), taken from my corpus, illustrate two of the negative morphemes cited in Table 2.

(7a) shows the Nondumitive *sowse... te* ‘not yet’ [§2.1.7], with a nominal object. The positive counterpart of (7a) would be the iamitive (7b) [see §2.1.7]:

- (7) a. [(negative) NONDUMITIVE]
 Tōlkma **sowse** wdōñ **te** o āv.
 1EXCL.TRI NDUM₁ set.up NDUM₂ ART fire
 ‘We haven’t set up the fire yet.’ {‡7437#S31}
- b. [(positive) IAMITIVE]
 Tōlkma **me**-wdōñ **nok** o āv.
 1EXCL.TRI IAM₁-set.up IAM₂ ART fire
 ‘We have set up the fire already.’

The Negative potential (*v*)*te... late* in (8a), just like its positive equivalent (8b) *s(o)-... lala*, is carried by a complex predicate (serial verb), and followed by a pronominal object:

- (8) a. Na **vte** mōl tētēg **late** kmur.
 1SG NEG.POT₁ return follow NEG.POT₂ 2DU
 [NEGATIVE POTENTIAL] ‘I won’t be able to follow you.’ {‡3162#S31}
- b. Na **s-mōl** tētēg **lala** kmur.
 1SG POT₁-return follow POT₂ 2DU
 [(positive) POTENTIAL] ‘I’ll be able to follow you.’

2.1.2 Typological classification

Dahl (1979) proposed a first typological classification of negative strategies in the world. With respect to the morphological types of exponents, Dorig negative morphemes pertain to the type he calls “circumfixal” (Dahl 1979: 100).

As far as word order is concerned, Dryer (2013b) classified languages in terms of the negator's position with respect to the clause's subject, object and verb. Dorig would belong to his subsection 144F "*Obligatory double negation in SVO languages*". Within that group, it falls under type #2 *SNegVNegO* when NEG₁ is a particle, or under the similar type #7 *S[Neg-V]NegO* when NEG₁ is a prefix.

Throughout his publications, Miestamo (2005, 2007, 2013a,b) has studied the many forms of symmetry and asymmetry found in the marking of negation in languages. Symmetrical negation is one where "affirmative and negative structures are identical except for the presence of the negative marker(s)" (Miestamo 2005: 72); all formal contrasts that correlate with negation – whether morphological, syntactic or semantic – are then considered types of "asymmetry".

On the basis of the first facts we have seen, we can already make some observations:

- Table 2 above makes it clear that standard negation is never symmetrical: the form taken by the portmanteau TAMP morpheme changes altogether across polarities, so there is no case where positive and negative differ only by the presence of a negator. In this respect, Dorig belongs to the subtype Miestamo (2005: 170, 2013a) calls "Asymmetric standard negation only" [type Asy]; this is his least common category, found only in 17 percent of his typological sample.
- In negative clauses, the verb is always finite, just like in positive ones. Dorig does not show asymmetry in the finiteness status of the verb (subtype A/Fin in Miestamo 2005: 73, Miestamo 2013a).
- Word order is identical across polarities: Dorig is syntactically symmetrical (cf. Miestamo 2005: 153).
- The marking of Tense-Aspect-Mood categories differs across polarities: this pertains to Miestamo's (2005: 112) "A/Cat" type – i.e. asymmetry in the marking of grammatical categories. Note that this is even true when there is a perfect semantic correspondance, in terms of paradigm, between the positive and the negative. For example, the nondumitive in (7a) is semantically the exact counterpart of the positive iamitive (7b), and yet their morphological exponents have nothing in common.⁹ This is a case of *constructional asymmetry* (2005: 52) in the expression of tense-aspect-mood ("A/Cat/TAM", 2005: 116).

⁹This configuration is parallel to the one Miestamo (2005: 117) reports for Central Siberian Yupik, or for the Songhay language Koyraboro Senni.

- Another major type of asymmetry found in Dorig is *paradigmatic asymmetry*. The layout of Table 2 shows the pervasive mismatch between positive and negative TAM, and the lack of one-to-one correspondance across polarities. Some TAM categories that exist in the positive don't have any equivalent in the negative [Sequential *so*, cf. (2)]; and some semantic contrasts made under one polarity are lost or neutralised in the other [see §2.1.4].
- In Miestamo's fine-grained quantitative typology, Dorig would belong to his category "A in both C and P" (2005: 172), i.e., Asymmetry both in constructions and in paradigms.
- Finally, section §2.1.5 will discuss yet another type of asymmetry relevant for Dorig: the one related to the "reality status" of the clause (A/NonReal). As we'll see, one possible analysis is to describe it as a case of "paradigmatic displacement" (A/NonReal/Displc, 2005: 98).

2.1.3 Declarative statements in the realis domain

Let us now examine in more detail the way standard negation works in Dorig. For the sake of expository convenience, I will examine separately two distinct domains in modality or "reality status", respectively the REALIS and the IRREALIS. These are defined semantically, after Elliott (2000). The realis domain targets states of affairs whose temporal anchoring precedes or includes the moment of utterance, encompassing the domains 'past' and 'present'. By contrast, the irrealis domain corresponds to "unrealized state[s] of affairs" (Cristofaro 2012), events which are only virtual at the moment of utterance. While many Oceanic languages contrast realis vs. irrealis explicitly using modal morphology, Dorig and its neighbours leave the opposition unmarked; or rather, they incorporate that modal contrast in a paradigm that also encodes oppositions of tense and aspect. In other words, Dorig really uses a *set* of realis TAMP markers on the one hand, and a *set* of irrealis ones on the other hand – as suggested in the first column of Table 2.¹⁰

¹⁰ The identical form between (realis) Stative *v(a)-* and (irrealis) Counterfactual *v(a)-* is best analyzed, synchronically, as a mere matter of homophony, as there is no semantic link between the two TAMP categories other than a common source of grammaticalization (<**va* 'thing'). The only TAMP morpheme that really straddles the semantic boundary between the two modal domains [cf. Table 2] is the form *gra*, glossed here 'Dilatory'. This aspectual category, sometimes labelled 'Time focus' (François 2003: 199–216; 2021: 221–223), is found across north Vanuatu languages. Everywhere it is compatible with realis and irrealis readings: in a realis context, the Dilatory aspect takes on an inaugural meaning ('do X for the first time'); in an irrealis one,

In Dorig, the negation of declarative verbal main clauses takes different forms depending on the aspect and modality of the clause; as a result, no individual morpheme can be identified as *the* marker of negation. Table 2 however suggests some regularities, or at least some trends. Essentially, negative morphemes in declarative realis statements (top half of Table 2) tend to involve a postverbal particle (TAMP₂) *tēmē*, which I will provisionally gloss ‘NEG.IND’ for ‘Negative indicative’. By contrast, irrealis statements (negative versions of the potential, conditional, imperative...) often involve a postverbal particle *te*.

As a first approximation, one could thus propose that negation in Dorig involves a general opposition between *tēmē* ($\approx$ realis) and *te* ($\approx$ irrealis).¹¹ However, there are exceptions to this binary contrast: *tēmē* is sometimes found in irrealis (future) contexts, and *te* in some realis (nondumitive) statements. In order to describe the behaviour of negation in the system, it is better to delve, step by step, in the semantics of each of the negative morphemes listed in Table 2.

2.1.4 Paradigmatic asymmetries

The present section will first describe the paradigmatic asymmetries that characterise TAMP categories in the realis domain. Section §2.1.5 will then discuss the paradox that the negation used with semantically realis statements seems to be borrowed from the irrealis domain. The issue of phasal negatives will be examined in a separate section §2.1.7.

In the affirmative, the Stative particle *v(a)-* serves to assign a stative property (whether an adjective or a stative verb) to the subject:

- (9) Na *va-* vrēgēl tavul na vara-n.
 1SG STAT- know well ART country-3SG
 ‘I know her country well.’

This is a purely aspectual marker, underspecified with respect to tense. While its default interpretation is the present, it can equally refer to a past situation: thus *na va-vrēgēl* in (9) can translate ‘I know (now)’ or ‘I knew (then)’.

it forms a dilatory future, i.e. a future tense with a pragmatic orientation towards later ‘will do X later’ – as in (22). The common denominator of these two uses is a semantic mechanism that can be glossed ‘only at time T, and not earlier’ (whence the labels “Time focus” or “Dilatory”). The realis use of *gra* would be negated using the Negative realis, while its irrealis reading would correspond to the Negative future: this can be taken as evidence that the contrast of reality status (realis vs. irrealis) is in fact operational in Dorig, in spite of the ambivalence of the positive morpheme *gra*.

¹¹The etymology of these two negative elements will be discussed in §4.6.3.2.

In order to negate a sentence like (9), one cannot just combine the Stative *v(a)-* with the negation *tēmē*: such a sentence (10) is rejected as ungrammatical.

- (10) *Na **va-vrēgēl** tavul **tēmē** na vara-n.
 1SG STAT-know well NEG.IND ART country-3SG
 [intended: ‘I don’t know her country well.’]

Instead, the only way to negate the Stative *va-* is to use the Negative realis *s(o)-... tēmē* (glossed NEG.R₁... NEG.R₂); as in (11):

- (11) Na **so-vrēgēl** tavul **tēmē** na vara-n.
 1SG NEG.R₁-know well NEG.R₂ ART country-3SG
 ‘I **don’t** know her country well.’

The principle illustrated in (9–11) with Stative *v(a)-* also applies to other realis TAM categories. Thus, a Perfect (12a) *m(e)-* becomes (12b) *s(o)-... tēmē* when negated:

- (12) a. Na **m-tek** ni a gvur.
 1SG PRF-see 3SG LOC house
 ‘I saw him at home.’
 b. Na **s-tek** **tēmē** ni a gvur.
 1SG NEG.R₁-see NEG.R₂ 3SG LOC house
 ‘I **didn’t** see him at home.’

A clause in the Imperfective will also replace its discontinuous marker *t(o)-... ti* with the combination *s(o)-... tēmē*, as in (13):

- (13) Na lña ra ta Krō, radōn nēk t-roñ tavul **ti**, radōn
 ART voice.of HUM.PL ABL Koro some 2SG IPFV₁-hear well IPFV₂ some
 nēk s-roñ tavul **tēmē**.
 2SG NEG.R₁-hear well NEG.R₂
 ‘The language of Koro, some of it one understands easily, but some of it,
 one **doesn’t** understand easily.’ [AF.BP3.18b]

As a result, the negation *s(o)-... tēmē* is semantically ambiguous. A sentence like (14) may correspond to a negative Perfect, a negative Stative, or a negative Imperfective:¹²

¹²The Negative realis is also the counterpart of certain less frequent TAMP categories shown in Table 2, such as the Dilatory aspect *gra* ‘only then (in the past or future)’ [see fn.10, and (22)], or its derivative the Immediate past *gra... ti* ‘just recently’ [see (79)].

- (14) O m̄er̄m̄er s-ñor tavul tēmē.
 ART child NEG.R₁-sleep well NEG.R₂
 ‘The baby {did not sleep ~ doesn’t sleep ~ is not sleeping} well.’

The distinctions made in positive statements are neutralised under a single, semantically vague category of “Negative realis”, which encompasses most of the tense and aspect values found in the affirmative within the semantically realis domain.¹³

In sum, the semantic space of verbal aspect is cut up differently in the positive and in the negative – a configuration typical of northern Vanuatu languages in general.¹⁴ This lack of a one-to-one correspondence between positive and negative polarities, which was obvious in Table 2 [§2.1.1], is known as *paradigmatic asymmetry* (Miestamo 2005, 2013b). When it involves the neutralisation of certain semantic distinctions, as happens here for realis TAM categories, it is called *paradigmatic neutralisation* (Miestamo 2005: 54), abbreviated “A/Cat/TAM/Neutr” (2005: 123).

2.1.5 Is there an asymmetry in reality status?

As explained at the end of §1.2, the analysis I favour is to consider all bipartite TAMP markers, whether positive or negative, as unitary morphemes, even though they appear to consist – at least etymologically – of two elements.

Now, if we were to analyse the Negative realis *s(o)-... tēmē* into its components, we could not help noticing that it seems to combine the negation *tēmē* (“indicative” negation, often associated with the realis domain) with a prefix *s(o)-*, which is the same form as the positive “Irrealis”. Indeed, when used alone in positive clauses, the prefix *s(o)-* is usually devoted to predicates with a meaning of conditional (1), future (20), potential (25), imperative (40) or deontic (76): this is the textbook definition of an Irrealis marker. Under this literal analysis, one could be tempted to present a sentence like (12b) with the tentative glosses in (15):

- (15) Na s-tek tēmē ni a gvur.
 1SG IRR-see NEG.IND 3SG LOC home
 ‘I didn’t see him at home.’

¹³The only two TAM markers of the realis domain that have an exact correspondence between positive and negative polarities [cf. Table 2] are the two phasal aspects “iamitive” and “continuative”; these will be examined in §2.1.7.

¹⁴See François (2003: 33–37, 2005a: 132) for similar observations about the language Mwotlap; Schnell (2011: 31, 52, 95) about Vera’a; Malau (2016: 461) about Vurës.

It may come as a semantic oddity that an Irrealis morpheme should be used in statements about semantically ‘realis’ situations, whether past (12b) or present (11, 13). Yet this is arguably due to a paradox inherent to negation itself: even when set in a realis (past or present) situation, the state-of-affairs that is being negated remains virtual, and indeed un-realised. In his major typological survey of negation, Miestamo (2005: 96) discusses this type¹⁵ under the label “paradigmatic asymmetry in reality status” (realis vs. irrealis), and explains it in these words:

“[T]he association between negation and non-reality on the formal level iconically reflects the association between negation and non-reality on the functional level.” (ibid: 96)

Using the label “A/NonReal”, Miestamo (2005: 192, 2013a) observes the distribution of this asymmetry across languages, and finds it in 13% of his sample (40 languages out of 297). While the pattern is well known across the world, in northern Vanuatu it is only found in Dorig: the other 16 languages of the Torres-Banks fail to show any link between negation and the irrealis. In that sense, Dorig is locally unique in enforcing this pattern, whereby negative statements impose an irrealis verb in semantically realis (past, present) contexts.

In languages with “A/NonReal” asymmetry, the typical pattern is one where the contrast between realis and irrealis exists in the affirmative, but is neutralised under negation, in favour of the irrealis. Thus for the Australian language Mawng, Miestamo (2013b) notes: “the negative clause is obligatorily marked for the irrealis category, whereas the affirmative can make a distinction between realis and irrealis”; such a configuration constitutes a case of paradigmatic neutralisation (Miestamo 2005: 97). Yet this is not what happens in Dorig: the combination *s(o)-... tēmē*, even though it is originally based on an irrealis morpheme *s(o)-*, can in fact only receive a realis interpretation – that is, an anchoring in past or present situations. Thus in Table 3, the counterpart of perfect (16) *na m-tek nēr*, namely (17) *na s-tek tēmē nēr*, is strictly used for realis reference (past ‘I didn’t see them’, or present ‘I’m not seeing them’); it cannot have any irrealis interpretation (**I won’t see them*). The latter meaning can only be expressed using one of the negations pertaining to the irrealis domain proper [§2.1.6], e.g. the Negative future *vte ... tēmē* – as in (19).

The system shown in Table 3 could be explained using two very different analyses. Under one hypothesis, the negative sentence (17) would be seen as the symmetric counterpart of (18) – at least if one considers only the surface forms, since

¹⁵For other general references, see also Elliott (2000) and Cristofaro (2012).

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Table 3: Preservation of realis/irrealis contrast across polarities

	POSITIVE			NEGATIVE		
	Positive perfect			Negative realis		
REALIS	(16)	Na m-tek nēr.		(17)	Na s-tek tēmē nēr.	
		1SG PRF-see 3PL			1SG NEG.R ₁ -see NEG.R ₂ 3PL	
		‘I saw them.’			‘I didn’t see them.’	
	Positive irrealis			Negative future		
IRREALIS	(18)	Na s-tek nēr.		(19)	Na vte tek tēmē nēr.	
		1SG IRR-see 3PL			1SG NEG.FUT ₁ see NEG.FUT ₂ 3PL	
		‘I will see them.’			‘I won’t see them.’	

it consists in adding to it the negative particle *tēmē*. Yet that formal symmetry comes along with a semantic asymmetry, because the future interpretation of the affirmative (18) corresponds to a past reading in the negative. Such a configuration is called “paradigmatic displacement” by Miestamo (2005: 98), as he describes the facts of the Papuan language Alambalak:

“The paradigm is asymmetric but has no neutralization; realis negation uses the irrealis form but the irrealis is negated differently (...). There is thus paradigmatic displacement rather than neutralization and the asymmetry is of type *A/NonReal/Displc.*”

While such an interpretation would be acceptable for Dorig, I will favour a different approach. In my view, the analytical tool of “symmetry” is only meaningful if we are comparing two sentences whose sole semantic difference is polarity. Faced with a dataset like Table 3, it does not appear useful to assess whether there is symmetry, formal or semantic, between sentences (18) and (17), simply because these two sentences do not form a pair in terms of polarity. Likewise, we do not want to assess the symmetry of negation by comparing, say, English sentences *He laughed* vs. *He won’t laugh*, because they do not form a polarity pair. The only sentences relevant to this assessment are those consisting of a statement in the affirmative vs. its counterpart in the negative: that is, the pair (16–17) on the one hand; and the pair (18–19) on the other hand. For a speaker of Dorig, there

is no pragmatic context in which a sentence like (17) would form the negative counterpart to (18). These two distinct sentences, involving different truth-value conditions, do not enter any form of productive polarity contrast in the modern language.

In sum, I believe that the better analysis of the Dorig facts is to analyse the Negative realis marker as a single morphological unit *s(o)-... tēmē*, albeit a discontinuous one. Synchronically, that negative construction has no tie whatsoever with the positive irrealis *s(o)-* – apart from some partial homophony; yet this homophony is best ignored by the linguist, because it's irrelevant to the speaker. Under this new analysis, what Table 3 shows is rather the solidity of the contrast between realis and irrealis in the language, which remain formally distinguished both in the affirmative and in the negative. This comes in contrast with the cases of asymmetry we saw in §2.1.4 above, where certain paradigmatic contrasts in the domain of tense and aspect are neutralised under negation.

This construction-based analysis [see §1.2] is reflected in the glosses I use in Table 3. Its logical conclusion is that Dorig really doesn't have A/NonReal asymmetry, because its Negative realis morpheme *s(o)-... tēmē*, synchronically, actually counts as [+realis], regardless of its etymology. In the remainder of this paper, I will continue to gloss the discontinuous morpheme *s(o)-... tēmē* as a single semantic category of "Negative realis", regardless of its etymological connection with the positive irrealis.

2.1.6 Declarative statements in the irrealis domain

In the affirmative, the TAMP category of Irrealis encoded with *s(o)-*, like (20), may express intention, promise, threat – in a way equivalent to an English future:

- (20) Na s-la āt min kmur.
 1SG IRR-take thither DAT 2DU
 'I will give it to you.' [AF.BP3.29a]

As we saw in Table 3 [§2.1.5], the negative equivalent of this positive Irrealis *s(o)-* is not the Negative realis *s(o)-... tēmē*, but one of the irrealis negative morphemes – for example, the Negative future *(v)te ... tēmē*, as in (21):

- (21) Na vte la tēmē āt min kmur.
 1SG NEG.FUT₁ take NEG.FUT₂ thither DAT 2DU
 'I won't give it to you.' [AF.BP3.29b]

The preverbal element *vte* or *te* never occurs alone. It only exists as the first element in three discontinuous morphemes of negation, all with irrealis semantics: see Table 4.¹⁶

Table 4: The three main negative markers of the irrealis domain

(v)te ... <i>tēmē</i>	Negative future	‘I won’t V...’
(v)te ... <i>late</i>	Negative potential	‘I can’t V...’
(v)te ... <i>te</i>	Prohibitive	‘Don’t V...!’

If we tried to analyse three discontinuous negations into their components, we might propose a generic gloss ‘NEG.IRR’ for (v)te, without too much difficulty; but then, the TAMP₂ particle would be impossible to gloss accurately. If *tēmē* were glossed ‘FUT’ (so that NEG.IRR + FUT results in a negative future), this would be incompatible with the other uses of *tēmē* in past or present contexts. Likewise, *late* cannot be glossed ‘POT’, as it only occurs in combination with the negation. Even more problematic would be to try and gloss separately (v)te ... *te*, assuming we tried to achieve a compositional meaning of prohibitive. All things considered, the only elegant analysis – which is also more realistic in terms of modelling speakers’ competence – is to adopt a constructional approach, and consider each of these combinations as bipartite, unanalysable morphemes. The three negations above will thus be glossed, respectively, NEG.FUT₁... NEG.FUT₂; NEG.POT₁... NEG.POT₂; and PROH₁... PROH₂.

The Negative future, illustrated in (21), is used to negate two types of future: the one encoded by the Irrealis *s(o)-*, but also the Dilatory future marked by (22a) *qra* [fn.10 p.976]:

- (22) a. Dār s-sim bas, dār qra gāngēn.
1INCL.DU IRR-drink finish 1INCL.DU DILAT eat.INTR
‘We’ll first drink, and (only later) we will have dinner.’ [Drg.d04:34]
- b. Dār s-sim, la dār te gāngēn tēmē.
1INCL.DU IRR-drink but 1INCL.DU NEG.FUT₁ eat.INTR NEG.FUT₂
‘We’ll drink, but we won’t be having dinner.’

This is another instance of paradigmatic asymmetry, as a semantic contrast made in the affirmative (between the Irrealis and the Dilatory future) is neutralised under negation.

¹⁶Note that only the first two of these correspond to declarative sentences, and thus to standard negation proper; as for prohibitive morphemes, they will be presented in §2.2.2.

HC: @Sebastian:
is it ok to have
smaller textsize
for the source
of examples so
that it fits on
the line?

In reality, the Negative future is very rare in my corpus: I was only able to hear it under elicitation. Much more common are the two other types of irrealis negation: the Negative potential (21 instances in my corpus), and the various forms taken by the Prohibitive (35 instances) – for which, see §2.2.2.

In the affirmative, potential statements of the type ‘I can V’ are expressed using the discontinuous Potential morpheme *s(o)-... lala* – see (4) and (8a) above, or (23):

- (23) O mān neñ ni s-daw rōrōw lala o tdun.
 ART snake DIST 3SG POT₁-do wrong POT₂ ART person
 ‘That snake can be harmful to people.’ [Drg.q.Anemol.03]

The positive Potential *s(o)-... lala* combines the Irrealis prefix *s(o)-* with a TAMP₂ particle *lala*; the latter results from the grammaticalisation of a former postverb [§1.2] *lala* meaning ‘(do) successfully, e.g. when hunting’. Yet synchronically, *s(o)-... lala* must be analysed as a single (albeit discontinuous) morpheme coding for potential modality; hence the gloss POT₁-... POT₂. One reason to consider *s(o)-... lala* as grammaticalised is precisely the form of its negative counterpart. Instead of a putative form **(v)te... lala tēmē* (which would be expected if *lala* were still a postverb), the Negative potential is an unpredictable morpheme *(v)te... late*. Thus, the negative equivalent of (4) above is (24):

- (24) [NEGATIVE POTENTIAL]
 Kmār vte briñ late nēk.
 1EXCL.DU NEG.POT₁ help NEG.POT₂ 2SG
 ‘We can’t help you.’

The TAMP₂ particle *late* results from the contraction of *lala* with **te*, which is essentially a particle of negation [see §4.6.3]; synchronically, it is unanalysable.

Whether in the positive or negative, the potential mood may refer semantically to a situation in the present or future – as in (4/24) or (8a–8b). It can also refer to a habitual possibility – as in (23), or the clause *nēk te tek late ni* in (25):

- (25) Tuar qōñ ni s-van nēk te tek late ni ni t-van ti.
 INDF day 3SG IRR-go 2SG NEG.POT₁ see NEG.POT₂ 3SG 3SG IPFV₁-go IPFV₂
 ‘Sometimes [the sorcerer] can just walk around without being seen.’
 (lit. ‘Sometimes he’ll walk *you can’t see him* yet he’s walking.’) {§3195#S38}

2.1.7 The subsystem of phasal aspects

As we examined the paradigmatic asymmetries of the Dorig system, we saw how several aspect distinctions made in the affirmative are neutralised in the negative.

One type of semantic boundary, though, is solid enough to be preserved across polarities: these are the contrasts involving phasal aspects with pragmatic pre-suppositions: ‘already’ vs. ‘not yet’, ‘still’ vs. ‘no longer’.¹⁷ These aspects form a subsystem of their own, with grammaticalised constructions, both in the positive and negative.

Let us call *t* the moment when a state of affairs *P* changes into its opposite state *Q* (e.g. *alive* → *dead*; *sick* → *cured*; *single* → *married*; *wet* → *dry*; etc.). If I wish to express that *t* has taken place already, I may formulate this by reference to the new state *Q* (‘the shirt is dry already’), by using what is known as a **IAMITIVE** aspect.¹⁸ Alternatively, I may use a pragmatically equivalent formulation, this time making reference to the initial state *P* (‘it’s no longer wet’). The latter construction, sometimes called **DISCONTINUATIVE** (van der Auwera 1998: 44), involves a phasal negation ‘not any more, no longer’. Another possibility is that the event *t* (the change from *P* to *Q*) has not happened yet. Again, I may choose to express this by reference to *P* (‘it’s still wet’), which is a **CONTINUATIVE**; or by reference to *Q*, by employing what I’ll call a **NONDUMITIVE** (‘it’s not dry yet’).

Table 5 summarises these four patterns, in the form of a rectangle of phasal aspects.¹⁹ The predicates used as examples are the adjectives *loq* ‘wet’ and *wow* ‘dry’. The negative constructions are shown in grayed cells.

Note the binary relations that define the quadrangular structure of Table 5:

- the continuative (26) is the pragmatic equivalent of the nondumitive (27)
- the discontinuative (28) is the pragmatic equivalent of the iamitive (29)
- the discontinuative (28) is the semantic opposite of the continuative (26)
- the iamitive (29) is the semantic opposite of the nondumitive (27)

The following lines illustrate each of these cases, with a special focus on the negative morphemes (grayed cells in Table 5).

Dorig contrasts two types of perfect aspects: the Perfect *m(e)-* and the Iamitive *m(e)-... nok*:

¹⁷For general references on phasal aspects, see Löbner (1989), van der Auwera (1993), van der Auwera (1998), van Baar (1997), Krifka (2000).

¹⁸The term “iamitive” (from Latin *iam* ‘now, already’) is a type of perfect that focuses on change-of-state, and often builds on speaker’s expectations (Olsson 2013, Dahl & Wälchli 2016).

¹⁹For similar observations on other languages, see Löbner (1989), Krifka (2000). See also François (2003: 325) on Mwotlap.

Table 5: The rectangle of phasal aspects in Dorig (referring to a change of state from P to Q)

	reference to state P	reference to state Q
P→Q has not happened	CONTINUATIVE (26) va-loq mlēti STAT-wet CONT 'it's still wet'	NONDUMITIVE (27) sowse wow te NDUM ₁ dry NDUM ₂ 'it's not dry yet'
P→Q has happened	DISCONTINUATIVE (28) s-loq nok tēmē NEG.R ₁ -wet IAM NEG.R ₂ 'it's not wet any more'	IAMITIVE (29) va-wow nok STAT-dry IAM 'it's dry already'

- (30) a. I ntu-k m-lāg le tuar sñar.
PERS child-1SG PRF-marry LOC other month
'My child got married last month.'
- b. I ntu-k m-lāg nok.
PERS child-1SG PRF-marry IAM
'My child is married (now/already).'

The semantic contrast between perfect and iamitive, which is pervasive in northern Vanuatu (François 2003: 118–130), has to do with the handling of information.²⁰ In a Perfect sentence like (30a), the whole predicate brings new information. By contrast, (30b) entails a pragmatic presupposition: due to local cultural expectations, the event '*get married (at some point)*' is presupposed or "pre-defined", and here the focal information is whether that expected event has yet happened, or not.

Admittedly, the contrast between (30a) and (30b) is encoded through a postverb *nok* rather than through distinct TAMP morphemes. That said, these two constructions entertain clear paradigmatic relations with their negative counterparts, which form TAMP categories of their own [see Table 5]. I thus propose to take a constructional perspective here again, and consider these different combinations as TAMP categories in their own right.

²⁰See also Vander Klok & Matthewson (2015) for a discussion of a contrast between 'perfect' and 'already' in Javanese.

Indeed, the contrast between perfect and iamitive finds its mirror image in the negative polarity. A clause in the Perfect, with no internal hierarchy of information (old vs. new), would simply be negated with the Negative realis [§2.1.4]:²¹

- (31) [NEG. REALIS]
 I ntu-k s-lāg tēmē le tuar sñar.
 PERS child-1SG NEG.R₁-marry NEG.R₂ LOC other month
 ‘My child didn’t get married last month.’

The negative counterpart of the iamitive, on the other hand, is a specific construction equivalent to English ‘not yet’. Among various names, that construction has sometimes been called *nondum*, after its Latin equivalent (Veselinova & Devos 2021); I propose to label it *nondumitive*, to highlight the mirror-relationship with the *iamitive*. In Dorig, the nondumitive is a discontinuous morpheme of the form *sowse ... te* – as in (7) above, or (32):

- (32) [NONDUMITIVE]
 I ntu-k sowse lāg te.
 PERS child-1SG NDUM₁ marry NDUM₂
 ‘My child isn’t married yet.’

The nondumitive also comes with pragmatic presuppositions – the very same ones we saw with the iamitive. Thus, (32) implicitly refers to the expectation that one should marry some day; the nondumitive states that such a predefined moment has not materialised yet at the moment of utterance. Likewise in (7a), in a context where the subject was supposed to be cooking food, the (predefined) moment of lighting the fire had not taken place yet.

As far as the morphology is concerned, one must note here a puzzling case of opacity between the ordinary Realis negation *s(o)-... tēmē* on the one hand, and the Nondumitive *sowse... te* on the other hand [Table 2]. While English simply contrasts *not* with *not yet*, Dorig treats the two morphemes as formally unrelated with each other. The first element *sowse* is opaque, being found exclusively in this context; as for the second element *te*, it clearly bears a relation with the negative domain, yet not in a way that would make it easy to gloss on its own.

Finally, another example of a phasal aspect with pragmatic implications is the Continuative, expressed in English with *still* – see (26) above. Dorig expresses the positive continuative with a postverb *mlēti* ‘still’ (glossed CONT for ‘continuative’), as in (33).²²

²¹If (31) didn’t have a time complement, its Negative realis could also receive a present (stative) interpretation: *I ntu-k s-lāg tēmē* ‘My child isn’t married’ [see §2.1.4].

²²In (33), the dash encodes the elongated vowel [ɛ:] typical of the word *le* in questions.

- (33) Ni m-mat nok, le— ni va-ēs **mlēti?**
 3SG PRF-dead IAM or 3SG STAT-alive CONT
 ‘Is he dead already, or is he still alive?’ { $\pm$ 7437#S64}

The continuative particle *mlēti* is generally incompatible with negation.²³ As we saw in Table 5, the polarity counterpart of the Continuative is the Discontinuative ‘no longer, not any more’. The latter obtains by combining the Realis negation *s(o)-... tēmē* [§2.1.5] with the iamitive postverb *nok*, as in (34):

- (34) A: Ni va-señ mlēti?
 3SG STAT-sick CONT
 ‘Is she still sick?’
 B: Obek, ni s-señ **nok tēmē.**
 NEGEX 3SG NEG.R₁-sick IAM NEG.R₂
 ‘No, she’s **not** sick **any more.**’

Such a combination must be understood, literally, as in (35).

- (35) { it is now the case }_{IAMITIVE} that [*she’s not sick*]_{NEG.REALIS}

2.1.8 Synthesis

To summarise our observations so far, standard negation in Dorig involves a wealth of morphological elements in which polarity is inextricably mixed with semantic dimensions of tense, aspect, modality – or even pragmatic presuppositions, in the case of phasal aspects. Negation is expressed by discontinuous morphemes which can hardly be given a compositional analysis, and are best understood as unanalysable constructions.

As detailed in §2.1.2, the Dorig system is characterised by different forms of asymmetry across polarities: constructional asymmetry in the expression of tense-aspect-mood; paradigmatic asymmetry regarding tense and aspect; and possibly asymmetry with respect to reality status. In fact, there are very few areas where Dorig maintains some form of stability across polarities: the contrast in reality status has resisted neutralisation, in a pattern of “paradigmatic displacement”; and phasal aspects form a neat ‘rectangle’, with regular one-to-one correspondences between affirmative and negative.

All in all, there are so many differences between positive and negative TAMP markers that Dorig could be analysed as having two distinct sub-systems. Each

²³The only case when the continuative *mlēti* can combine with a negation is when forming a sentential reply “Not yet” – see §3.1.2 below.

polarity has its own cut-up of the semantic space, with no easy way to find correspondences across polarities – a type which Miestamo (2005: 54) calls “different-system asymmetry” (DiffSys).

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

2.2.1 Questions

Little needs to be said about questions. Interrogative sentences make use of the same verbal categories as we saw in the declarative: e.g. Negative Realis (36), Nondumitive (37), Negative Potential (38). In these examples, interrogation is only marked by prosody.

- (36) Nēk s-tek tēmē ni?
2SG NEG.R₁-see NEG.R₂ 3SG
‘Didn’t you see her?’ [Drg.d12.Sintia:22]
- (37) Nēk sowse vārdēn te ma ni?
2SG NDUM₁ meet NDUM₂ with 3SG
‘Haven’t you met with her already?’ [Drg.d12.Sintia:42]
- (38) Te ttās late kēl aqri?
NEG.POT₁ bad NEG.POT₂ again today.FUT
‘Can’t it [the phone] go wrong again today?’ [Drg.q.Tel:05]

2.2.2 Prohibition

In the positive, an order can be encoded by an Imperative. If the subject is dual or plural, it is encoded by a special pronoun (39b) *ar* ‘IMP.2NSG’ (imperative non-singular) – contrasting with (39a) Ø for 2SG:

- (39) [IMPERATIVE]
- a. (Ø) sēw ma!
(IMP.2SG) descend hither
‘Come down!’
- b. Ar sēw ma!
IMP.2NSG descend hither
‘Come down (y’all)!’

Table 2 [§2.1.1] represented the Imperative category as *[ar]...*: this stands for the alternation between preverbal $\emptyset$ and *ar*.

Another common way to formulate an order is simply to use an Irrealis clause in *s(o)-*, as in (40a–40b):

- (40) [IRREALIS]
- a. Nēk s-sēw ma!
 2SG IRR-descend hither
 ‘Come down!’
- b. Kmur s-sēw ma!
 2DU IRR-descend hither
 ‘Come down (you two)!’

Except for the imperative prosody, such clauses are formally identical to the declarative sentences in the Irrealis – cf. (1), (20). As for the prohibitive, it involves three constructions. Speakers describe them as perfectly synonymous; and indeed, they appear to be interchangeable in all contexts. The first construction is the discontinuous morpheme *(v)te... te*. This requires the overt presence of a subject pronoun – unlike the imperative (39a) – plus reduplication of the verb, as in (41):

- (41) [NEGATIVE IMPERATIVE]
- Nēk vte sēwsēw te ma!
 2SG PROH₁ descend~RED PROH₂ hither
 ‘Don’t come down!’

A non-singular subject of a Prohibitive can be either an ordinary pronoun or a special imperative pronoun. Thus, the dual equivalent of (41) can be *Ar (v)te... te* as in (64) or (75) below, but it can also take the form *Kmur (v)te... te* as in (42):

- (42) Kmur vte vanvan tvilag te vak!
 2DU PROH₁ go~RED beyond PROH₂ DIR
 ‘Don’t you (two) ever walk beyond that point over there!’ {‡3254#S7}

In terms of morphology, the Prohibitive can thus be seen as the negative counterpart of the Imperative *[ar]...* of (39), but also of the Irrealis with imperative reading *s(o)-...* of (40). This double correspondence was represented in Table 2 in §2.1.1.

The second construction consists of a clause-initial prohibitive particle *tog* and a *v(a)-* prefix, following the atypical template (43).

- (43) **Tog** subject ⟨*v(a)*- verb ... ⟩ ...

Even though it is homophonous with the Stative, the prefix *v(a)*- is likely to represent here a different morpheme, namely the Counterfactual [§2.4]. In any case, the best analysis here again is to assign a single meaning ‘Prohibitive’ to the construction as a whole (i.e. *tog... v(a)*- ‘PROH₁... PROH₂’):

- (44) **Tog** *nēk v-savāg* *nēk vatmē sa* *neñ!*
 PROH₁ 2SG PROH₂-boast 2SG like FOC DIST
 ‘Stop showing off like that!’ [AF.BP3.34b]
- (45) *Kmur s-van, tog* *nēk va-vavgat* *min i* *Wrisris.*
 2DU IRR-go PROH₁ 2SG PROH₂-talk~RED with PERS (name)
 ‘As you walk together [to the Underworld], don’t talk to Wrisris.’
 {‡3197#S12}

While (44–45) illustrate the prohibitive with a second person, (46) shows it may also be used with third person subjects:

- (46) **Tog** *ra=rqa* *v-van* *gin o* *qāti* *bē!*
 PROH₁ PL=woman PROH₂-go OBL ART source water
 ‘Women must not go to the river source.’ [AF.BP3.30b]

Finally, a third construction exists, that is somewhat a hybrid of the first two. It takes the form of a sequence *tog... te*, which I also gloss ‘Prohibitive’. The coding of its second-person subjects is parallel to the positive counterpart we saw in (39): if the subject is singular (47), it may be encoded with a zero; but a non-singular subject (48) would involve *ar*:

- (47) **Tog** *dōdōm* *mawmawis te* *aē!*
 PROH₁ think~RED suffer~RED PROH₂ ADV.ANAPH
 ‘Don’t worry about it!’ [Drg.d04.Kava:41]
- (48) *Ar* **tog** *vanvan rās te* *vak!*
 IMP.2NSG PROH₁ go~RED far PROH₂ DIR
 ‘Don’t you (two) walk too far over there!’ {‡7437#S29}

Dorig’s three prohibitive constructions are used in the same pragmatic contexts, and appear to be perfectly interchangeable – as shown in (49):

- (49) a. *Nēk (v)te* *simsim* *te!*
 2SG PROH₁ drink~RED PROH₂

- b. Nēk tog simsim te!
 2SG PROH₁ drink~RED PROH₂
- c. Tog nēk v-sim!
 PROH₁ 2SG PROH₂-drink
 ‘Don’t drink it!’

This diversity of forms for the prohibitive adds to the profusion of negative morphemes we had seen already.²⁴

These three constructions can be situated within the typology of prohibitive patterns proposed by [van der Auwera & Lejeune \(with Valentin Goussev\) \(2013\)](#). Dorig belongs to their subtype #4, labelled “special imperative + special negative”:

- *special imperative*: the three prohibitives involve morphosyntactic patterns specific to them, and not found in the positive imperative (obligatory reduplication, obligatory exponence of the subject);
- *special negative*: the three prohibitives employ (bipartite) negators that are all reserved to the expression of the prohibitive, and never used in declaratives.

Author: @LSP:
 can we reduce
 the spacing in
 this itemize list?

[Van der Auwera & Lejeune \(with Valentin Goussev\)](#)’s typological study included a sample of six Vanuatu languages, which pertain to different subtypes. Among that sample, the language geographically closest to Dorig, namely Mwotlap, was also assigned to their subtype #4.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

The previous sections examined verbal clauses. Following the structure of the reference questionnaire ([Miestamo 2025](#)), we now turn to *stative predication*. As we’ll see, this umbrella category encompasses quite different types of negation again.

2.3.1 Equative and ascriptive predicates

In the absence of a copula like English *be*, noun phrases in Dorig are directly predicative.²⁵ In (50), the predicate NP is shown between brackets (...):

²⁴In addition, Dorig also has a marker of apprehensive modality, which in some contexts may be used as an indirect form of prohibitive: this will be briefly discussed in §4.5.

²⁵This is true of other languages in north Vanuatu – e.g. Mwotlap ([François 2005a](#): 128), Vera’a ([Schnell 2011](#): 32), Vurës ([Malau 2016](#): 68), Hiw ([François 2017](#): 326) – and widespread in Oceanic (van [van Lier 2016](#), [François forthcoming\(b\)](#)).

- (50) Ni ⟨o tdun vi-lwo nami kma⟩.
 3SG ART person ATTR-great POSS 1EXCL.PL
 ‘He is a major figure for us.’ {±3197#S35}

Such nominal predicates are negated using the negator *tēmē*. Whereas verbs only use it in combination with a pre-verbal TAMP element – e.g. *s(o)...* *tēmē* or *vte...* *tēmē* – non-verbal predicates feature *tēmē* as the sole marker of negation. When *tēmē* occurs alone like this, I propose to gloss it NEG.IND [§2.1.3]. Thus compare the positive noun predicate (51a) (*X is an N*) with its negative counterpart (51b) (*X is not an N*):

- (51) a. O masa ⟨oror nami mērmēr⟩.
 ART knife toy POSS child
 ‘A knife is a toy for children.’
 b. O masa ⟨oror nami mērmēr tēmē⟩.
 ART knife toy POSS child NEG.IND
 ‘A knife is **not** a toy for children.’ [Drg.d05.Naef:43]

2.3.2 Negation of attributive predicates

Dorig has a category of adjectives. Unlike verbs, adjectives can modify nouns, by means of the ‘Attributive’ prefix *v(e)-* (cf. (50) above). In spite of their structural difference, adjectives behave the same as stative verbs in predicate position, and take the same array of TAMP markers. Thus if the meaning is stative as in (52), the adjective inflects for the Stative aspect *v(a)-*:

- (52) Va-wē.
 STAT-good
 ‘It’s okay / That’s fine / It’s beautiful.’ {±3189#S14}

In principle, adjectival predicates are negated following the same rules as for verbs [§2.1]. Thus the Stative, Perfect, or Imperfective aspects in the positive are all negated with the Negative Realis (53) *s(o)...* *tēmē*:

- (53) Na bē-k s-wē tēmē.
 ART body-2SG NEG.R₁-good NEG.R₂
 ‘My body is aching.’ (lit. my body is not well) [Drg.d02.Krae:06]

However, my corpus shows several examples, like (54), where a negated adjectives has kept the stative *v(a)-*:

- (54) Va-wē tēmē!
 STAT-good NEG.IND
 ‘That’s not okay.’ {±2306#S67}

Such a combination is excluded with stative verbs – see (10) above – but it is allowed with adjectives. This is coherent with our earlier observation about nominal predicates [§2.3.1], suggesting that *non-verbal predicates* follow simpler rules than verbal ones. Negating a non-verbal predicate only takes adding the negator *tēmē*. This is the only domain where Dorig negation shows full “symmetry” between polarities.

This principle also works with a handful of adjectives that happen to be incompatible with the stative prefix – e.g. (55) *arās* ‘remote, far away’. They are simply negated by adding *tēmē*:

- (55) A: Arās soqsoq sa!
 far INTS DIST
 ‘That’s really far!’
 B: Bek! Arās tēmē.
 NEGEX far NEG.IND
 ‘Not at all! It’s not far.’ [Drg.q.d01.Road:21]

Finally, Dorig has a similitive predicate (*François forthcoming(b)*) *taṁrag* ‘be like...’ – derived from *ṁrag* ‘like...’ – that behaves neither like an adjective nor like a verb. As (56) shows, this similitive takes the same negation as other non-verbal predicates, namely *tēmē*:

- (56) Taṁrag tēmē aēsa le Vanuatu.
 be.like NEG.IND here LOC Vanuatu
 ‘It’s not like here in Vanuatu.’ [AF.BP3.28a]

2.3.3 Existential, possessive, locative predicates

In the affirmative, Dorig usually forms its existentials using the word (57) *aē*:²⁶

²⁶The original use of *aē* is as an oblique anaphoric ‘about it, with it, at it, there’, used in adjunct position – see (47). When used in predicate position, that adverb has grammaticalised into an existential operator (compare English *there* → *be there*). A similar path can be reconstructed in various other Oceanic languages: e.g. Mwotlap (*François 2005a*: 128; *François forthcoming(b)*), East Uvean (*Moyse-Faurie 2018*: 305).

- (57) O tne vre ⟨aē⟩, Diwtag.
 ART location.of village EX Diwtag
 ‘There is an abandoned village, (called) Diwtag.’ {±3195#S45}

The negation of an existential predicate (58a) employs a dedicated negator, namely (58b) *bek* or *obek* ‘NEGEX’ (Negative existential):

- (58) a. O bē ⟨aē⟩.
 ART water EX
 ‘There is water.’
 b. O bē ⟨obek⟩.
 ART water NEGEX
 ‘There is no water.’

Existential constructions are also used to encode predicative possession. The equivalent of English *I have an N* is a structure meaning literally “There is my N” ~ “My N exists”. This may refer to alienable (59) or to inalienable (60) possession:

- (59) Namo-n o ak sōsō vi-lwo aē.
 POSS-3SG ART ship paddle~RED ATTR-big EX
 ‘He had a large canoe.’ {±2306#S1}
- (60) I nti kmār nok aē.
 PERS child.of 1EXCL.DU IAM EX
 ‘We already have children.’ [Drg.q.d12.Sintia:36]

Such possessive predicates are also negated using (*o*)*bek* – see (61):

- (61) Nēk magse-ñ, i ntō-ñ obek.
 2SG alone-2SG PERS child.of-2SG NEGEX
 ‘You are alone, you don’t have children.’ {±2306#S41}

With a definite subject, a Negative existential *obek* also serves to negate a locative predicate such as (62a):

- (62) a. Ni le mon o vre.
 3SG LOC POSS-3SG ART village
 ‘He is in his village.’ {±3197#S8}
 b. Ni obek le mo-n o vre.
 3SG NEGEX LOC POSS-3SG ART village
 ‘He isn’t in his village.’

We'll see in §3.1.1 how the Negative existential *obek* is also used for negative replies.²⁷

Table 6 recapitulates the different constructions discussed in §2.3 on stative predications.

Table 6: Negation in some stative predications

Type of predication	Positive polarity	Negative polarity	sym?
Equational, ascriptive	SBJ ⟨NP⟩ _{PRED}	SBJ ⟨NP <i>tēmē</i> ⟩ _{PRED}	+
Attributive	SBJ ⟨TAM adjective⟩ _{PRED}	SBJ ⟨s(o)-/TAM adjective <i>tēmē</i> ⟩ _{PRED}	+
Existential, possessive	SBJ ⟨ <i>aē</i> ⟩ _{PRED}	SBJ ⟨ <i>obek</i> ⟩ _{PRED}	–
Locative	SBJ ⟨LOCATIVE⟩ _{PRED}	SBJ ⟨ <i>obek</i> LOCATIVE⟩ _{PRED}	–

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

The rules of negation are identical in main and non-main clauses. Example (63) has two clauses in a causal relation {*P because Q*}. The second clause uses the Negative realis, just like an independent clause would (cf. 12b):

- (63) Kmur me-briñ na *sur* o āv s-gān *tēmē* na.
 2DU PRF-help 1SG CSL ART fire NEG.R₁-burn NEG.R₂ 1SG
 ‘You helped me dodge the fire.’
 (lit. ‘You two helped me so the fire didn’t burn me.’) {‡2306#S68}

In a relative clause, the subordinator *ka* inserts between the clause’s subject and predicate. The relative clause in (64) features a nondumitive:

- (64) Ar te vanvan vga te vak gēn neñ sa
 IMP.2NSG PROH₁ go~PROH beyond PROH₂ DIR FOC DIST TOP
 {gēn ka *sowse* van te aē}.
 1INCL.PL SUB NDUM₁ go NDUM₂ ADV.ANAPH
 ‘Don’t you two walk beyond the point over there,
 where *we haven’t been yet!*’ {‡7437#S20}

²⁷The syntactic and phraseological behaviour of Dorig *obek* is parallel to that of equivalent morphemes in northern Vanuatu languages – Hiw *tego*, Vurës *odian* (cf. Malau 2016: 66), Mwotlap *tateh*, Lemerig *niv*, etc.; see the comparison in François (2011: 214, 219–221).

The morphosyntax of negation is here identical to the one found in an independent sentence (cf. 8). Section §4.5 below will examine a type of quasi negation in quasi subordinate contexts: namely, the apprehensive *tekor* ‘so that not...; for fear that...’.

I will here focus on one particular type of syndesis: conditional systems. Conditional systems in Dorig present two semantic subtypes: HYPOTHETICAL vs. COUNTERFACTUAL systems. As Table 7 shows, these two types of conditionals require different negations when the conditional protasis is negated.

Table 7: Negation in conditional protases

Type of system	Positive protasis	Negative protasis
Hypothetical	{ <i>kak</i> X <i>m</i> -V ₁ ...}, Y <i>s(o)</i> - V ₂ ‘if X <i>did</i> V ₁ , then Y <i>would</i> V ₂ ’	{ <i>kak</i> X <i>mtē</i> V ₁ <i>tēmē</i> ...}, Y <i>s(o)</i> - V ₂ ‘if X <i>did not</i> V ₁ , then Y <i>would</i> V ₂ ’
Counterfactual	{ X <i>vit</i> V ₁ ...}, <i>mrag</i> Y <i>v(a)</i> - V ₂ ‘if X <i>had</i> V ₁ , then Y <i>would have</i> V ₂ ’	{ X <i>vit</i> (v) <i>te</i> V ₁ <i>te</i> ... }, <i>mrag</i> Y <i>v(a)</i> - V ₂ ‘if X <i>had not</i> V ₁ , then Y <i>would have</i> V ₂ ’

In HYPOTHETICAL systems like (65), the conditional subordinator (English *if*) is the complementiser *kak*, usually followed (in the affirmative) by a verb in the Perfect *m(e)*-:

- (65) *Kak o d̄mug m-kot nēk, nēk s-gār nēk s-dēñ o*
 COMP ART mosquito PRF-bite 2SG 2SG IRR-scratch 2SG IRR-reach ART
mrān.
 daylight
 ‘If you’re bitten by mosquitoes, you’ll scratch yourself all night.’

If the protasis is negative as in (66), the Perfect marker *m(e)*-... is replaced by a combination *mtē... tēmē* in the usual TAMP slots:

- (66) *Kak nēk mtē vrisa wālōg tēmē mi (...),*
 COMP 2SG HYP.NEG run round NEG.IND with.it
nēk s-gān o m̄la neñ, v-marmar.
 2SG IRR-eat ART scrubfowl DEM STAT-hard
 [a magic ritual to make meat tender] ‘If you don’t run in circles while holding it, then when you eat the scrubfowl, [its meat] will be too hard.’
 {§3189#S41}

The TAMP marker *mtē... tēmē* is only found in this context (although see ex. 86). The use of the negator *tēmē*, normally reserved to realis or “indicative” modality, is somewhat paradoxical in the case of a hypothesis; but it is coherent with the use of a (realis) Perfect in the affirmative equivalent (65).

As for COUNTERFACTUAL hypotheses, they involve a dedicated counterfactual system *vit... mrag* [Table 7], as seen in (67) with two positive clauses:

- (67) Ni **vit** ttuw na mta-n,
 3SG if.CNTF hit ART eye-3SG
 mrag na mta-n v-qel ni!
 then.CNTF ART eye-3SG CNTF-blind OBL.ANA
 ‘If he had hit her eyes, she would have become blind.’ [Drg.d08.Rao:15]

In such a system, a negative protasis requires a special negation, namely (*v*)*te... te* – as in (68):

- (68) Na **vit** te löblöb te o wrēt sa, **mrag**
 1SG if.CNTF NEG.CNTF₁ pound~RED NEG.CNTF₂ ART squid TOP then.CNTF
 v-marmar.
 CNTF-hard
 ‘If I hadn’t pounded this squid, it would be too hard.’ [AF.BP3.33a]

It is noteworthy that the negation (*v*)*te... te* is used both for the prohibitive [§2.2.2] and for a negative Counterfactual hypothesis. Indeed, those are two contexts when the speaker elaborates a virtual situation in contrast with reality.²⁸

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

The notion of “negative lexicalization” (Veselinova 2013a) refers to the case when a negative meaning is expressed by lexical rather than morphological means. In other words, negative polarity is baked into a word’s lexical semantics, rather than being part of a compositional expression. For example, English *refuse* can be seen as the negative counterpart of *accept*.

Except for the contrast between positive and negative existentials [§2.3.3], Dorig does not have clearcut cases of such a pattern. Among Dorig’s neighbours, some languages show lexicalisation for meanings such as ‘not want’ (Teanu *mene*), or ‘not know’ (Hiw *yiñetog*, Teanu *mui*; François 2021). But in such cases, Dorig would use a phrasal negation: *so-mrōs tēmē* ‘not want’, *so-vrēgēl tēmē* ‘not know’.

²⁸Likewise, a language like Latin would use the subjunctive in both cases: the Counterfactual (*si eum occidisset* ‘if she had slain him...’) and the Prohibitive (*ne facias* ‘don’t do!’).

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

Somewhat peripheral to the domain of negation proper is the frustrative postverb *mtēl* ‘(do) in vain’ – e.g. (69). A common translation is often a negative construction in English, such as ‘be unable to, can’t’:

- (69) Sō sag neñ, t-rev mlē namon o ak neñ ti,
 paddle up DIST IPFV₁-tow again POSS.3SG ART canoe DIST IPFV₂
 la t-revrev **mtēl** ti.
 but IPFV₁-tow~RED in.vain IPFV₂
 ‘Once he reached the shore, he tried again to tow his boat, but
didn’t manage to.’ (lit. ‘but *he towed in vain*’ = he tried to tow it
 but was NOT able to) {±2306#S35}

In spite of its English translation, this frustrative construction cannot be considered a proper instance of a negative structure in the grammar of Dorig.

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

3.1.1 Equivalent of a Negative declarative clause

When answering negatively a yes/no question, Dorig can use either of two strategies:

- the ‘light no’, consisting of a “prosodic gesture” of the form [ʔ.ʔ.ʔ] uttered on a vowel /ɔ/: Óóó [ʔ.ʔ.ʔ];
- the ‘heavy no’, which is the Negative existential used absolutely (with no argument).

The use of Negative existentials for negative replies is shared by all Vanuatu languages (François 2011: 220), and is in fact common typologically (Veselinova 2013b). A negative reply in Dorig will thus include the Negative existential *obek*, or its shorter variant *bek* – see (34) and (55) above, or (70):

- (70) A: Namu-k o vriñriñ va-wow nok?
 POSS-1SG ART thing STAT-dry IAM
 ‘Are my clothes dry yet?’

- B: **Bek**, va-loq mlēti.
 NEGEX STAT-wet CONT
 ‘No, they’re still wet.’ [Drg.q.Adj:41]

The negation (*o*)*bek* may contradict a negative statement or question uttered by the addressee, in which case it may translate in English as a strong ‘yes’ (Fr. *si!*, Germ. *doch!*):

- (71) A: Kmur vte briñ late na!
 2DU NEG.POT₁ help NEG.POT₂ 2SG
 ‘You won’t be able to help me!’
 B: **Obek**, va-wē!
 NEGEX STAT-good
 ‘Yes (we will), that’s fine!’ {‡2306#S21}

A dialogue like (71) shows that Dorig behaves like Japanese, in that its negative replies disagree with the polarity of the previous utterance, rather than with its propositional content (see Holmberg 2015, Miestamo 2017). In that sense, it serves as a “polarity-reversing particle” (Moser 2018: 23).

3.1.2 Equivalent of a Nondumitive clause

The standalone equivalent of the nondumitive *sowse... te* ‘not yet’ [§2.1.7] is a combination of (*o*)*bek* with the continuative marker *mlēti*. Such a combination reads literally as shown in (72).

- (72) { it is still the case }_{CONTINUATIVE} that [*no*]_{NEGEX}

This is in fact parallel to English *not yet* or French *pas encore*. Note that the negative reply *bek mlēti* can also be used as a tag in the question (73).

- (73) A: Ni m-lāg nok, le *bek mlēti*?
 3SG IAM₁-marry IAM₂ or NEGEX CONT
 ‘Is she married, or not yet?’
 B: **Bek mlēti**.
 NEGEX CONT
 ‘Not yet.’ [Drg.d12.Sintia:33]

This combination of the negative existential *bek* with the continuative *mlēti* provides a standalone equivalent to the nondumitive (74):

- (74) Ni sowse lāg te.
 3sg NDUM₁ marry NDUM₂
 ‘She isn’t married yet.’

In English, the relation between the clausal construction (*not... yet*) and the standalone equivalent (*Not yet.*) is formally transparent; in Dorig, it is quite opaque – compare (73–74).

3.1.3 Equivalent of a Prohibitive

A standalone prohibitive uses the interjection (75) *tog!* ‘don’t!’. This is the same word as the formative found in *tog ... v(a)-*, one of the TAMP markers for prohibitive – see (45) in §2.2.2.

- (75) Tog! Ar te qāgqēg vtē te!
 PROH 2NSG.IMP PROH₁ throw~RED away PROH₂
 ‘Don’t! Don’t you throw it away!’ [Drg.d09.Karen:41]

Dorig also has a special interjection (76) *tuqa (titi)* for what can be called the “dilatatory prohibitive”, i.e. ‘Not yet!’ or ‘Wait!’:

- (76) Tuqa titi! So-wdōñ mō o āv.
 DILAT.PROH POL.IMP IRR-set.up before ART fire
 ‘Not yet / Wait! You must first set up the fire.’ [Drg.d10.Bekem:10]

This sort of interjection is a common feature in northern Vanuatu – see Table 11 in the Appendix.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Dorig does not have inherently negative indefinites or adverbs equivalent to English *never*, *nobody*, *nothing*, *no X*, etc. These meanings are expressed by combining the expected negation with a generic noun (hyperonym) such as:

- *o tdun* ‘(a) person’ + NEG → ‘nobody’
- *o sa(v)* ‘(a) thing, what’ + NEG → ‘nothing’

In the typology of negative indefinites proposed by Haspelmath (2013a, 2013b), *sav* and *tdun* would be “generic-noun-based indefinites”. (77) shows the equivalent of *nobody* in an existential clause:

- (77) Añō, o tdun obek.
 in.past ART person NEGEX
 ‘In the olden days, [in this island] there was *nobody*.’
 (lit. ‘there was not a person’) {±3195#S7}

The negated participant can be the syntactic subject as in (77), or an object as in (78):

- (78) Kmār s-tek tēmē o sa aēsei.
 1EXCL.DU NEG.R₁-see NEG.R₂ ART what here
 ‘We haven’t seen *anything* here.’ [Drg.d05.Naef:08]

Just like other nouns, the NP heads *tdun* and *sa(v)* take the common noun article *o*. As we’ll see in §4.3 for noun phrases in general, that article *o* remains unchanged whether the sentence is affirmative or negative.

3.3 Negative derivation and case-marking

Patterns of negative derivation (such as English *un-friendly*, *im-possible*, *time-less*) are rare in Oceanic languages, and evidently absent in Dorig.

Likewise, Dorig has no adposition similar to English *without*. In order to express a caritive meaning, one would resort to a complex sentence with a negative existential. For example, *without a child* or *childless* would be expressed by a sentence like (61) above – a strategy which is typologically very common (Veselinova 2013a: 118).

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Dorig does not have grammaticalised devices to specify the scope of negation. As a rule, the negation is carried by the predicate head (generally, a verb) regardless of which constituent is semantically the focus of the negation:

- (79) La Wrisris, ni s-mat tēmē attua soqsoq,
 but Wrisris 3SG NEG.R₁-die NEG.R₂ long.ago INTS
 Wrisris ni qra mat wor ti.
 Wrisris 3SG RECPST₁ die just RECPST₂
 ‘[Our god] Wrisris *didn’t die* a very long time ago, he died just recently.’
 {±3197#S36}

In (79), the negation formally surrounds the verb *mat* ‘die’, even though its semantic scope is really the time adjunct *attua* ‘a long time ago’ – in a way similar to its English translation.

Because the negation is only marked on the predicate head, sentence (80) would be ambiguous between three readings (a, b, c). Only prosody can here be used as a clue to identify the scope of negation.

- (80) O tdun sa so-vsōg tēmē o wiag neñ.
 ART person this NEG.R₁-plant NEG.R₂ ART yam that
 (lit. ‘This person here didn’t plant those yams.’)
 a. ‘It was *not this man* who planted those yams.’
 b. ‘This man *did not plant* those yams (he bought them).’
 c. ‘This man didn’t plant *those yams* (he planted these other ones).’

That said, the scope of negation is sometimes specified using a strategy, namely topicalisation by left-dislocation. Thus, Dorig commonly has complex predicates that involve more than two lexemes – either a serial verb {V+V}, or a verb and its modifier {V+Adjective}, {V+Postverb}; such complex predicates invariably share the same TAMP marking. If that marking is negative, it has scope over the whole predicate: see the examples (8a), (11), (14), (42), (47). In a sentence like (81), the negation is thus shared by the action verb *daw* ‘do’ and the postverb *tavul* ‘well, correctly’:

- (81) Na s-daw tavul tēmē.
 1SG NEG.R₁-do well NEG.R₂
 ‘I’m not doing it correctly.’

Dorig can sometimes break up these complex predicates, and distribute them across two separate clauses – one being topicalised, the second under focus. In such cases, each predicate head recovers its own autonomous TAMP marking. Thus compare (81) with its biclausal variant (82):²⁹

- (82) Na t-daw t’ sa, va-wē tēmē!
 1SG IPFV₁-do IPFV₂ TOP STAT-good NEG.IND
 ‘[The way] I’m doing it, that’s not correct!’ {±2306#S67}

Breaking apart a complex predicate may be seen as a way to specify the exact scope of the negation.

²⁹Because *tavul* is a postverb (‘well, properly’), it cannot head a predicate; its clausal equivalent is the adjective *wē* (‘good, proper’).

4.2 Negative polarity items

So-called *negative polarity items* (Baker 1970), or *scale reversal items* (Haspelmath 1997: 34), are words – such as English *any* or *ever* – that occur typically in negative contexts, but are also found in other forms of non-assertive sentences, such as questions, hypotheses, generic statements, etc. Dorig does not have such morphemes.

For example, the generic noun (*o*) *tdun* ‘person’ combines with a negation to yield the equivalent of ‘nobody’ as in (77) or (87); but it is also found in affirmative statements, as in (23) or (50). The same would be true of the inanimate (*o*) *sa(v)* ‘what/anything’ – see (78).

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Dorig has the following noun determiners (François 2007):

- *i* – ‘personal article’, reserved to human nouns with high individuation such as proper names [→ ex.(45)] or kin terms [→ (30–32), (61), (88)]
- *na* – ‘possessive article’ for common nouns (i.e. non-human, or human with low individuation) that are inalienably possessed (suffixed) [→ (9), (13), (53)]
- *o* – ‘common article’ for common nouns that are unbound: either alienably possessed as in (59), or simply unpossessed as in (7), (14), (23).
- *tuar* – ‘indefinite article’ for all nouns, as in (25), (87).

The function of these articles is mostly syntactic, that of a determiner: it’s a D in a DP. Crucially, the first three articles are underspecified with respect to the features [$\pm$ definite] or [$\pm$ referential]: depending on the context, they may refer to an indefinite (‘a’, ‘some’) or a definite article (‘the’), to a specific entity or a generic one. This explains why the same articles are compatible both with positive and negative clauses, whether they are to be interpreted as referential or not. A noun marked by one of these determiners will be ambiguous in its interpretation. The same sequence *o masa* ‘(a/the) knife’ is thus found in positive (83a) or negative (83b) statements alike:³⁰

³⁰While Dorig here behaves like its immediate neighbours, it contrasts with several languages of Vanuatu that employ different NP articles in positive vs. negative sentences. Thus Hiw (Torres Is.) contrasts two indefinite articles, one [+ref] and one [-ref] (François 2016a); further south, Araki also forces the use of *partitive* determiners in irrealis and/or negative clauses (François 2002: 54–67).

- (83) a. Na m-tek o masa allon.
 1SG PRF-see ART knife inside
 [±def] [+ref] ‘I saw a/the knife inside.’
 b. Na s-tek tēmē o masa allon.
 1SG NEG.R₁-see NEG.R₂ ART knife inside
 [-def] [-ref] ‘I didn’t see any knife inside.’

The default reading of *o masa* in (83b) is non-referential (English *any knife*); but the presence of another modifier, like a possessor (84) or a demonstrative, can override this interpretation by forcing a [+definite] reading:

- (84) Na s-tek tēmē namo-n̄ o masa allon.
 1SG NEG.R₁-see NEG.R₂ POSS-2SG ART knife inside
 [+def] [+ref] ‘I didn’t see your knife inside.’

In sum, noun phrases bear the same determiners in positive and negative contexts. In this respect, the Dorig system shows perfect symmetry across polarities.³¹

4.4 Reinforcing negation

In order to reinforce its negative statements, Dorig uses an auxiliary *tē* ‘Negation intensifier’ (INTS.NEG), of unknown origin.³² The reason it can be analysed as a (verb-like) auxiliary is that it bears the TAMP marking instead of the lexical verb, which follows it immediately.

The ordinary negation (85a) can be compared with the intensified negation (85b):

- (85) a. Ni s-vit tēmē o sav.
 3SG NEG.R₁-say NEG.R₂ ART thing
 ‘He didn’t say anything.’
 b. Ni so-tē vit tēmē o sav, ni so mōl.
 3SG NEG.R₁-INTS.NEG say NEG.R₂ ART thing 3SG SEQ return
 ‘He didn’t even say anything, and left.’ {±2306#S26}

³¹Some languages of northern Vanuatu differ from Dorig in this respect, as they show different noun determiners depending on the clause’s polarity: see François (2002: 62–69) for the language Araki (Santo), or François (2016a) for Hiw (Torres Is.).

³²The form *tē* [tɪ] is unrelated with the *te* [tɛ] we have seen as a formative in several negative morphemes [§2.1.3].

This auxiliary is also attested with the perfect *m(e)*:-

- (86) Tōlnēr so ñor, i rār **m-tē** ñor tavul **tēmē**.
 3TRI SEQ sleep PERS 3DU PRF-INTS.NEG sleep well NEG.IND
 ‘The three of them went to sleep, but the two (brothers) didn’t manage to sleep at all.’ {±3107#S20}

This sequence *m-tē... tēmē* may well be the origin of the homophonous negation we saw in hypothetical sentences [§2.4].

4.5 Negation in complex clauses: the case of the apprehensive

Dorig does not have any coordinator that would be specialised for negation, such as Latin *neque*, or English *neither... nor*. As for subordination, special mention must be made of negative purposives, or rather their pragmatic equivalent.

When a clause P is meant to avoid the realisation of an event Q, many languages – like English – employ a negation in the subordinate clause, in a pattern {P, *so that not* Q} – e.g. *Stand firm, so you don’t fall*. In Vanuatu languages, such meanings are usually expressed by a special construction called “apprehensive” – of the type {P, *lest* Q}.

In Dorig, the apprehensive linker is a form *tekor*, followed by a positive irrealis:

- (87) Na t-ñor gor ti **tekor** tuar tdun s-bāl.
 1SG IPFV₁-sleep over IPFV₂ APPR INDF person IRR-steal
 ‘I sleep on it [my money] so nobody can steal it.’
 (lit. ‘I sleep on it *lest* anyone steals it’) [Drg.d05.Naef:14]

This apprehensive particle *tekor* is grammaticalised from a verb *tekgor* [tekɔr] ‘beware, look out’ – etymologically ‘watch (*tek*) over (*gor*)’. So a sentence like (87) arguably involves three underlying predicates: “I sleep on it, [*bewaring*] someone might steal it”.

Even though *tekor* appears to serve as a subordinator in (87), the very same word also routinely surfaces sentence-initially as in (88), as a morpheme coding for apprehensive modality:

- (88) Ar te vanvan vga te vak gēn neñ sa
 IMP.2NSG PROH₁ go~RED beyond PROH₂ DIR FOC DIST TOP
 gēn ka sowse van te aē.
 1INCL.PL SUB NDUM₁ go NDUM₂ ANAPH

Tekor kmur s-van wōn i tbi-kmur.

APPR 2DU IRR-go find PERS ancestor-2DU

‘Don’t you two walk beyond the point over there, where we haven’t been yet! *You might come across* [the ghost of] your ancestor.’ {±7437#S21}

Even if *tekor* does not, strictly speaking, encode syntactic subordination, it does encode a form of pragmatic dependency between the two sentences. Indeed, the main function of the apprehensive modality is to present a scenario as undesirable (‘you might meet an evil ghost’); this utterance, in turn, serves as a justification for an imperative or a prohibitive, whether the latter is made explicit or not.³³ As a corollary, the apprehensive is sometimes used – e.g. in (89) – as a polite or indirect variant of a prohibitive [§2.2.2]:

(89) **Tekor** nēk so-dlōm o sri-n!

APPR 2SG IRR-swallow ART bone-3SG

‘[Make sure you] *don’t swallow* the bones!’ [Drg.q.Rerem.04]

Yet crucially for our purposes, it bears highlighting that apprehensive modality does not, in fact, pertain to negation. Such constructions are relevant to a discussion of negative polarity only insofar as they constitute a pragmatic equivalent of constructions which, in other languages, might involve negative morphology (cf. ‘so *nobody* can steal it’); yet the apprehensive does not, strictly speaking, belong to the set of negative constructions.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Contrastive negation

In contrastive systems of the form {*not P (but) Q*}, some languages employ a special conjunction for ‘but’ (e.g. German *sondern*, Spanish *sino*). In such cases, illustrated in (90), Dorig simply uses parataxis:

(90) Bek, o gasi āv tēmē, o sawi o naw wor.

NEGEX ART smoke fire NEG.IND ART steam ART salt.water just

‘No, that’s not smoke, that’s just steam!’ [Drg.d10.Bekem:26]

³³I have developed this argument about the apprehensive of Mwotlap (François 2003: 301–312; François forthcoming(a)); see also Malau (2016: 679–680) for Vurës. For a typology of apprehensives, see Vuillermet et al. (forthcoming).

4.6.2 Non-negative uses of negatives

Clausal negation is always semantically negative or prohibitive. One case, though, deserves mention, where a formally negative morpheme is routinely assigned a meaning that cannot be reduced to negation strictly speaking.

We saw in §3.1 how the negative existential *bek* ~ *obek* is commonly used as a negative declarative reply ('No!'). The same negation can also commonly take a broader meaning, that of politely contradicting the relevance of the addressee's utterance, even when it was not a yes/no question. This is shown in the dialogue (91):

- (91) A: Nēk t-daksa ti?
 2SG IPFV₁-do.what IPFV₂
 'What are you doing?'
 B: Bek, na m-mōl kēl ma ti na t-rev namu-k o
 NEGEX 1SG PRF-return back hither COORD 1SG IPFV₁-tow POSS-1SG ART
 ak ti, la na t-revrev mtēl ti.
 canoe IPFV₂ but 1SG IPFV₁-tow~RED in.vain IPFV₂
 No (=nothing in particular, don't worry). Just that I was trying to tow
 my boat on my way back home, and I was unable to do it!
 {±2306#S18}

This polite use of sentential negation is common in the daily phraseology of Vanuatu languages (François 2011: 221).

4.6.3 Diachronic notes

In the absence of ancient documents in Dorig, the language's history must be reconstructed based on language comparison with its immediate neighbours. In that perspective, the appendix provides a comprehensive list (so far unpublished) of negative morphemes in all 17 Torres–Banks languages [see the map in §1.1], based on my firsthand data.

While a full comparison would go beyond the purpose of the present study, I will at least mention here the main paths of change that can shed light on the origin of Dorig negative morphemes.

4.6.3.1 Jespersen's cycle in the Banks islands' languages

The comparison of north Vanuatu languages shows that standard negation was initially (i.e. at the level of PTB 'Proto Torres–Banks') a simple proclitic **ate=*.

Mota, a conservative language spoken north of Dorig, has kept that simple system: ***ate aras*** <NEG far> ‘It’s not far’. Out of the 15 languages of the Banks islands, twelve later added a postverbal element, resulting in discontinuous markers. The data in (92) is a list (in IPA) of Realis negations in a few Banks languages. These are all semantically and structurally equivalent to Dorig *s(o)-... tēmē*, including their distribution across two slots TAMP₁... TAMP₂ [see §1.2]:

(92)	Lehali	/tɛt... tæ/
	Löyöp	/tɛ... tʃɛ/
	Mwotlap, Volow	/ɛt... tɛ/
	Lemerig	/(e)... tæ/
	Vera’a	/(ɪʔ)... rɔs/
	Nume	/veta... mi/
	Dorig	/s(ɔ)-... tɪmɪ/
	Koro	/t-... wɔs-mɪ/
	Olrat	/tɛ... wɔs/
	Lakon	/tɪ... avɔh/
	Mwerlap	/ti... tɛa/

In five of the languages cited in (92), the element in bold reflects a proto-form **tea*. This word **tea* goes back to a former numeral ‘one’, found for example in the form **lavea-tea* ‘six’, literally ‘[five]-one’ (François 2005b: 496). Some modern languages, like Mwotlap in (93), still reflect that form **tea* as an indefinite or partitive (‘some’):

- (93) Kimi ne-myōs ne-gengen **te** en, ami lep.
 2PL STAT-want ART-food PAR TOP 2PL.IMP take
 ‘[If] you want *some/any* food, help yourselves.’ {±7413#S250}

That partitive grammaticalised into the second element of a double negation (‘not ... even a little’ → ‘not’): see (94) for Mwotlap (François 2003: 317).

- (94) Imam et-ēglal **te**.
 father NEG.R₁-know NEG.R₂
 ‘Father doesn’t know.’ {±7413#S27}

Several languages of north Vanuatu went through the same grammaticalisation path, whereby a former partitive (‘some, any’ < **tea* ‘one’) became an obligatory component of a bipartite negation.³⁴ This is an instance of Jespersen’s

³⁴Further south on Ambae island (Vanuatu), Hyslop (2001: 260) describes the double negation *hi ... tea* in Lolovoli. For an overview of negation in several languages of Vanuatu, with an emphasis on the language Lewo, see Early (1994: 89).

Cycle.³⁵ In some languages, the cycle has even reached its ultimate consequence – i.e. the loss of the first component of negation. Thus in (95), the negative meaning ends up being carried by the reflex of **tea* on its own:

- (95) Mwotlap (François 2003: 318)
 Ino **te**, ikē!
 1SG.PRED NEG 3SG.PRED
 ‘It’s not me, it’s him.’

With the form *te* /tɛ/ found in neighbouring languages, the reader will have recognised the postverbal element *te* we had observed earlier in various negative constructions of Dorig: e.g. the nondumitive *sowse... te* [§2.1.7], the prohibitive (v)*te... te* or its variant *tog... te* [§2.2.2], the counterfactual protatic *vit (v)te... te* [§2.4]. That said, while a historical demonstration can show that *te* has its ultimate origin in a former quantifier **tea*, this is no longer perceptible to Dorig speakers: in synchrony, the only function that could be assigned to *te* is a general sense of “negation”. Strictly speaking, *te* is not even a full-fledged *morpheme*, since it never occurs on its own: it is no more than a formative in several compound morphemes, which are semantically non-compositional.

4.6.3.2 Morpheme coalescence as the source of Dorig negators

Among the many morphological elements associated with negation in Dorig, several result from processes of coalescence, or contraction, between two formerly separate morphemes.

Thus in the negative potential (v)*te ... late* [§2.1.6], the second element arguably results from a contraction of negative *te* with the former postverb **la* or *lala* coding for the potential: **la + te → late*. This reduplicated form *lala* is itself cognate with a postverbal morpheme **lai* found in some Banks languages, to encode Potential modality, of the form *lai* or *le* – see the forms of the Negative potential in Table 10 of the appendix.

The other common marker of negation, namely *tēmē*, can also be explained if we follow the path of Jespersen’s cycle in north Vanuatu, and pursue our cross-linguistic comparison. Among the 12 Banks languages that have reinforced their initial negation with a second element, (94) showed not only reflexes of **tea*, but also of other strengtheners: /rɔs/; /wɔs ~ avɔh/; /mi ~ mɪ/, all of unknown etymology.

³⁵About Jespersen’s cycle, see van der Auwera (2009) for a general account; Vossen & van der Auwera (2014) for a comparison of Austronesian languages. For case studies dedicated to other Oceanic languages, see Barbour (2015), Roversi & Næss (2019).

My proposal is that the Dorig negation *tēmē* /tɪmɪ/ results from the contraction of *te* /tɛ/ (marker of negation < quantifier *tea) and of a second form **mē* /mɪ/. The latter is not a morpheme in modern Dorig, but is attested (as /mɪ/ or /mɪ/) as a negative formative in Dorig’s two neighbours Nume and Koro. Considering the contrast between the negations in ...*te* and those in ...*tēmē* (see Table 2 in §2.1.1), it appears that {*te*+**mē*} would combine only in declarative utterances (as opposed to prohibitives), and under so-called “indicative” modality – covering realis contexts (past, present) as well as the rare declarative future [§2.1.6]. (Note however that the nondumitive, which is semantically realis or indicative, shows the unexpected form *te* instead of expected *tēmē*.)

The hypothesis of a coalescence {*te*+**mē*} is confirmed if we compare Dorig with its close neighbour Koro (François, field notes). In those contexts where Dorig would have *te*, Koro has a form *wōs* /wɔs/ (which it shares with Olrat /wɔs/ and Lakon /avɔh/); whereas Dorig *tēmē* systematically corresponds in Koro to an augmented negation of the form *wōsmē*. The morphomic parallelism³⁶ between the two languages is striking: see Table 8.

Table 8: Morphomic parallelism between negative morphemes in Dorig and Koro: bare vs. augmented forms of negation

type	meaning	Dorig	Koro
BARE NEGATION	negative imperative	(v) <i>te</i> ... <i>te</i>	<i>t-</i> ... <i>wōs</i>
	negative potential	(v) <i>te</i> ... <i>la-te</i>	<i>t-</i> ... <i>wēs-wōs</i>
	nondumitive	<i>sowse</i> ... <i>te</i>	<i>t-</i> ... <i>wōs mele</i>
AUGMENTED NEGATION	negative realis	<i>s(o)-</i> ... <i>tēmē</i>	<i>t-</i> ... <i>wōsmē</i>
	negative future	(v) <i>te</i> ... <i>tēmē</i>	<i>vata-</i> ... <i>wōsmē</i>
	non-verbal negation	... <i>tēmē</i>	... <i>wōsmē</i>

In sum, the history of negative morphemes in Dorig instantiates the Jespersen cycle in three steps:

- In Pre-Dorig, a quantifier *tea (‘one, some’) was grammaticalised into the 2nd element of negation in several bipartite combinations (*X... tea > X... *te*), to the point of becoming the main marker of negation.
- While some bipartite combinations in Dorig kept the bare form *te* /tɛ/, other constructions, found in declarative utterances, reinforced that second

³⁶For the notion of *morphomic pattern*, see Aronoff (1994), Maiden (2005).

element with a suffix **mē*, yielding an augmented negation *tēmē* (parallel to the augmented negation *wōsmē* of neighbouring Koro).

- In some contexts – especially, non-verbal predicates [§2.3] – the augmented form *tēmē* now functions as the sole exponent of negation: this constitutes the final stage of a Jespersen cycle.

5 Summary

The 17 Oceanic languages of the Torres–Banks linkage of northern Vanuatu vary considerably in the forms of their words, yet share a number of structural and typological features in the internal organisation of their grammars (François 2011). This is true for the semantic domain of negation.

Thus, all Torres–Banks languages draw a formal contrast between (a) a set of clausal negators carried by the predicate phrase (DRG *s(o)*... *tēmē*, etc.), and (b) a “Negative existential” word (DRG *obek*), which is itself a predicate of its own. That NEGEX word [§2.3.3] is used in existential, locative and possessive clauses, and also forms negative replies (“No !”).

In most Torres–Banks languages, standard negation takes the form of bipartite morphemes, resulting historically from a Jespersen Cycle. Those morphemes are portmanteau forms that combine polarity with semantic features of Tense, Aspect, Mood: this results in a TAMP system, with often non-compositional morphemes [§2.1]. A widespread configuration in the region is the lack of one-to-one correspondence between positive and negative TAMP morphemes, either in form or in meaning – an asymmetry known as “A/Cat” in typological work (Miestamo 2005, 2013a).

Among the Torres–Banks languages, this study focused on Dorig, chosen as a solid representative of these typological tendencies. In fact, Dorig also stands out among its neighbours, due to several features that are more original.

Table 9 recapitulates all the negative constructions we examined for Dorig, with a reference to each relevant section.

Compared to its neighbours, Dorig is original in using irrealis modality in semantically realis contexts, at least etymologically [§2.1.5]. Also unique to this language is the contrast between *te* and *tēmē* negations, bearing strong links with clausal modality (declarative vs. imperative; “indicative” vs. “subjunctive”), and only paralleled by its neighbour Koro [§4.6.3.2]. Equally noteworthy is the general insensitiveness of noun phrases and determiners to the polarity of the clause [§4.3].

Table 9: The negative constructions of Dorig: recapitulation

TAMP negators			
<i>s(o)-V tēmē</i>	‘doesn’t/didn’t V’	Negative realis	§2.1.5
<i>s(o)-V nok tēmē</i>	‘no longer V’	Discontinuative	§2.1.7
<i>sowse V te</i>	‘not V yet’	Nondumitive	§2.1.7
<i>(v)te V tēmē</i>	‘won’t V’	Negative future	§2.1.6
<i>(v)te V late</i>	‘can’t V’	Negative potential	§2.1.6
<i>(v)te V_{RED} te</i>	‘don’t V!’	Prohibitives	§2.2.2
<i>~ tog v(a)-V</i>			
<i>~ tog V te</i>			
<i>vit X (v)te V te</i>	‘if X hadn’t V’	Negative counterfactual	§2.4
Other negative constructions			
<i>P tēmē</i>	‘isn’t P’	Negation of nominal, adjectival, similitive predicates	§2.3.1
<i>X (o)bek</i>	‘there’s no X’	Negative existential	§2.3.3
<i>X (o)bek LOC</i>	‘X is not at LOC’	Negative locative	§2.3.3
<i>X POSS-Y (o)bek</i>	‘Y doesn’t have X’	Negative possession	§2.3.3
<i>(o)bek</i>	‘No.’	Standalone negation	§3.1.1
<i>bek mlēti</i>	‘Not yet.’	Standalone nondumitive	§3.1.2
<i>tog</i>	‘Don’t!’	Standalone prohibitive	§3.1.3
<i>tuqa</i>	‘Don’t yet!’	Standalone dilatory prohibitive	§3.1.3
<i>tekor + clause</i>	‘so that not V’	Apprehensive construction	§4.5

In a sense, Dorig constitutes an extreme case: that of a language in which the complexities of negative constructions are all concentrated in the predicate phrase, yet virtually absent from the rest of the clause.

Acknowledgments

I am grateful to Matti Miestamo and Ljuba Veselinova for their invitation to take part in the present volume; as well as for their input on earlier drafts of this chapter. I also wish to thank Héloïse Calame and Anni Pänkäläinen for their patient work as copyeditors. This work relates to the axis *Typology and dynamics of linguistic systems*, within the Paris-based program *Empirical Foundations of Linguistics* (LabEx EFL, ANR 10-LABX-0083).

Appendix: Negation in the Torres–Banks languages

While the present study was dedicated to negative constructions in the Dorig language, the very same linguistic categories can be consistently observed across all seventeen languages of the Torres and Banks Islands. In line with a very common configuration in the region (François 2011), this near-perfect isomorphism of structures goes along with an intense diversity of phonological forms.

The following tables, based on my firsthand notes, list all the negative morphemes of Torres–Banks languages, provided here for the first time in print. Forms are given in IPA. The letter ‘X’ refers to the predicate head – or the whole predicate phrase (e.g. complex predicate, verb+postverb, verb+verb, etc.) that carries the negative morphemes. If the head must be reduplicated, it is coded as ‘X²’.

Table 10: Negative constructions in Torres–Banks languages:
four clausal negations

	NEGATIVE REALIS 'did~does not X'	NONDUMITIVE 'hasn't X yet'	NEGATIVE FUTURE 'will not X'	NEG ^{VE} POTENTIAL 'cannot X'
Hiw	<i>tati</i> X	<i>tati</i> X <i>k^we</i>	<i>tat</i> X	<i>tat</i> X
Lo-Toga	<i>tata</i> X	<i>tata</i> X <i>k^wε</i>	<i>tat</i> X	<i>tat</i> <i>hɔ</i> X
Lehali	<i>tet</i> (<i>nε</i>) X <i>tæ</i>	<i>tet</i> X <i>k^wɔ</i>	<i>tet</i> X <i>tæ</i>	<i>tet</i> X <i>vistæ</i>
Löyöp	<i>tε(t)</i> X <i>ʔε</i>	<i>tε</i> X <i>ʔεkp^wε</i>	(<i>tε</i>) <i>t</i> X <i>ʔε</i>	(<i>tε</i>) <i>t</i> X <i>taŋm^was ʔε</i>
Mwotlap	<i>et</i> X <i>tε</i>	<i>et</i> X <i>kp^wεtε</i>	<i>tit</i> X <i>tε</i>	<i>tit</i> X <i>viste</i>
Volow	<i>et</i> X <i>tε</i>	<i>et</i> X <i>tε^gb^wε</i>	<i>t</i> -X <i>tε</i>	<i>t</i> -X <i>vihte</i>
Lemerig	(<i>εʔ</i>) X (<i>k^wp^wæ</i> l) <i>ʔæ</i>	(<i>εʔ</i>) X <i>ʔæ kiʔi(s)</i>	<i>mε</i> X <i>ʔæ</i>	(<i>εʔ</i>) X <i>ŋm^wæs-ʔæ</i>
Vera'a	(<i>iʔ</i>) X <i>rɔs</i>	(<i>iʔ</i>) X <i>ʔm</i>	<i>mε</i> X <i>rɔs</i>	<i>mas</i> X <i>ŋm^was</i>
Vurës	<i>yVtV</i> - X	<i>yVtV</i> - X <i>ten</i>	<i>mitV</i> - X	<i>mitV</i> - X <i>le</i>
Mwesen	<i>εtε</i> X	<i>εtε</i> X <i>vis</i>	<i>mete</i> X	<i>mete</i> X <i>le</i>
Mota	<i>yate</i> X	<i>yate</i> X <i>tkp^we</i>	<i>tete</i> X	<i>tete</i> X <i>lai</i>
Nume	<i>veta</i> X <i>mi</i>	<i>vitis</i> X <i>mi</i>	<i>manta</i> X	<i>manta</i> X <i>le</i>
Dorig	<i>s(ɔ)</i> - X <i>timɪ</i>	<i>sɔwse</i> X <i>tε</i>	(<i>v</i>) <i>tε</i> X <i>timɪ</i>	(<i>v</i>) <i>tε</i> X <i>late</i>
Koro	<i>t</i> -X <i>wɔsmɪ</i>	<i>t</i> -X <i>wɔs mεle</i>	<i>v(tV)</i> - X <i>wɔsmɪ</i>	<i>t</i> -X <i>wɔs wɔs</i> ~ <i>t</i> -X <i>wɔswɔs</i>
Orlat	<i>tɪ</i> X <i>wɔs</i>	<i>tɪ</i> X <i>wɔs mεle</i>	<i>tɪ</i> X <i>wɔs</i>	<i>tɪ</i> X <i>is wɔs</i>
Lakon	(<i>y</i>) <i>a(tɪ)</i> X <i>avɔh</i>	<i>yatɪ</i> X <i>avɔh male</i>	(<i>y</i>) <i>a(tɪ)</i> X <i>avɔh</i>	(<i>y</i>) <i>a(tɪ)</i> X <i>is avɔh</i>
Mwerlap	<i>ti</i> -X <i>tεa</i>	<i>ti</i> -X <i>tɪk^wɪ tεa</i>	<i>^mbit</i> X <i>tεa</i>	<i>^mbit</i> X <i>ɪ tεa</i>

Table 11: Negative constructions in Torres–Banks languages:
Prohibitive constructions and standalone negations

	Clausal prohibitive 'Don't do X'	Standalone prohibitive 'Don't!'	Negative existential = Standalone negation	Stand ^{me} nondumitive 'Not yet.'	Stand ^{me} dilatory proh ^{ve} 'Don't yet! Wait!'
Hiw	<i>tati</i> X ² ~ <i>taka</i> X ²	<i>təyɔ</i>	<i>təyɔ</i>	<i>tək^we</i>	<i>(k^we)tuk^we</i>
Lo-Toga	<i>tata</i> X ² ~ <i>mit</i> X ²	<i>tatəyε</i>	<i>tatəyε</i>	<i>tak^wε</i>	<i>melək^wε</i>
Lehali	<i>se</i> v X ²	<i>tetɣε</i>	<i>tetɣε</i> ~ <i>tetɣɔson</i>	<i>tək^wɔ</i>	<i>tək^wɔ vɔtjæ</i>
Löyöp	<i>tet</i> X ²	<i>tɔ</i>	<i>mep</i>	<i>fɛkɔp^wε</i>	<i>fɛkɔp^wε</i>
Mwotlap	<i>(ni)təy</i> X ²	<i>nitəy</i>	<i>tateh</i>	<i>tateh kɔp^wεtε</i>	<i>makoh</i>
Volow	<i>sap</i> X ²	<i>sap</i>	<i>tatih</i>	<i>tatih tε^gb^wε</i>	<i>magoh</i>
Lemerig	<i>ʔəkiʔi</i> X ² ~ <i>ʔen</i> X ²	<i>ʔəkiʔi</i>	<i>niv</i>	<i>niv kiʔi(s)</i>	<i>ʔəkiʔi</i>
	~ <i>(n)ʔəy</i> (<i>ʔen</i>) X ²				
Vera'a	<i>ʔovi(ʔi)</i> X ²	<i>ʔoviʔi</i>	<i>yitay</i>	<i>yitay ʔm</i>	<i>kɔp^wεʔi</i>
Vurës	<i>miN</i> = X ~ <i>kere</i> X ²	<i>nitəy</i>	<i>ɔ^gdianɣ</i>	<i>ɔ^gdianɣ ten</i>	<i>kiti</i>
	~ <i>nitəy</i> X ²				
Mwesen	<i>metε</i> X ~ <i>nitəy</i> X ²	<i>nitəy</i>	<i>enɛŋ</i>	<i>enɛŋ vis</i>	<i>turtikɔp^w</i>
Mota	<i>nipea</i> (we) X ²	<i>nipea</i>	<i>tayai</i>	<i>tayai tukɔp^we</i>	<i>tayai tukɔp^we</i>
Nume	<i>təy</i> vε- X ²	<i>təy</i>	<i>^mbek</i>	<i>^mbek tukɔp^wa</i>	<i>tukɔp^wa</i>
			~ <i>^mbek vaenti</i>	~ <i>^mbek vaenti</i>	
Dorig	<i>təy</i> v(a)- X ~ <i>təy</i> X ² <i>tε</i>	<i>təy</i>	(<i>ɔ</i>) <i>^mbek</i>	(<i>ɔ</i>) <i>^mbek mliti</i>	<i>tukɔp^wa (titi)</i>
	~ (<i>v</i>) <i>tε</i> X ² <i>tε</i>				
Koro	<i>t</i> - X ² <i>wəs</i> ~ <i>t</i> - X ² <i>ler</i>	?	<i>^mbek</i>	<i>^mbek mεlε</i>	<i>tukɔp^wa</i>
Olrat	<i>miti</i> X ² <i>lej</i>	<i>sɔw</i>	<i>taya</i>	<i>taya mεlε</i>	<i>asval ti</i>
Lakon	<i>miti</i> X ² <i>lε</i> :	<i>ta</i>	<i>ta</i>	<i>ta mālε</i>	<i>læwon tɔlɔ</i>
Mwerlap	(wɔ) <i>təkɔr</i> X ² ~ <i>təy</i> X ²	<i>tuyutu</i>	<i>trɪɪ</i>	<i>trɪk^wɪtεa</i>	<i>tuk^wɪtεa ~ tuk^watu</i>

Abbreviations

1	first person	IPFV	imperfective
2	second person	IRR	irrealis
3	third person	LOC	locative
ADV	adverb	NDUM	nondumitive
ANAPH	anaphoric	NEG	negative
APPR	apprehensive	NEGEX	negative existential
ART	article for nouns	NSG	nonsingular
ATTR	attributive prefix for adjectives	OBL	oblique
CSL	causal linker	PAR	partitive
CNTF	counterfactual	PERS	personal article (for humans)
CONT	continuative	PL	plural
COMP	complementiser	POLIT	polite order
COORD	coordinator	POSS	possessive classifier
DAT	dative	POT	potential
DEM	demonstrative	PRED	predicate, predicative
DILAT	dilatory (temporal delay)	PRF	perfect
DIR	directional	PROH	prohibitive
DIST	distal demonstrative	PST	past
DU	dual	QUOT	quotative
EXCL	exclusive	R	realis
EX	existential	RECPST	recent past
FOC	focus	RED	reduplication
FUT	future	SBJ	subject
HYP	hypothetical	SEQ	sequential aspect
IAM	iamitive	SG	singular
IMP	imperative	STAT	stative aspect
INCL	inclusive	SUB	subordinator
INDF	indefinite	TAM	tense, aspect, mood
IND	indicative	TOP	topicalizer
INTS	intensifier	TRI	trial number
INTR	intransitive		

HC: @LSP: is it possible to avoid the new-line in the middle of "Marine Vuillermet" in the last reference in this chapter? (VuillermetEtAlforthcomingA)

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Negation in Kalamang

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The Papuan language Kalamang [kgv] has standard clausal negation with predicate clitic =*nin*. Prohibitives are formed with a suffix -*mun* on the pronoun, and a clitic =*in* on the verb. Non-verbal clauses may be negated with propositional negator *ge* ‘no; not’ or with negative existential *saerak* ‘NEG.EX’. Kalamang has dedicated negative verbs with the meaning ‘to not want’, ‘cannot’ and ‘to not know’. Negative replies are made with *ge* ‘no; not’. *Ge* or derivatives thereof are used in other negative constructions or expressions such as polar question tag *ye ge* ‘or not’, negative conditional *get me* ‘if not’ and negative answer *ge mera* ‘oh, nothing’.

Keywords: Papuan languages, negation, verbal morphology, negative lexicalization, prohibitive.

1 Introduction

Kalamang (also known as Karas, ISO: kgv, Glottocode: kara1499) is a Papuan language of the Greater West Bomberai family spoken by around 130 people in eastern Indonesia, in West Papua province. Kalamang is spoken on the biggest of the three Karas Islands. This island is home to two villages, Mas and Antalisa. In both villages, Kalamang is the main indigenous language. All Kalamang speakers are bilingual in Papuan Malay (a cover term for local varieties of Malay used in the provinces Papua and West Papua). Papuan Malay is the main language in mixed-language marriages, in village meetings, at school and for interaction with anyone who is not a Kalamang speaker. Kalamang is an endangered language: there are no fluent speakers born after 1990.

Besides Kalamang, the Greater West Bomberai family is composed of Iha and Mbaham, which form their own subgroup, and a subgroup formed by the Timor-Alor-Pantar languages (Usher & Schapper 2022), see Figure 1.

In this chapter, I describe aspects of negation in Kalamang following the questionnaire by Miestamo 2025. First, I describe clausal negation in §2, including

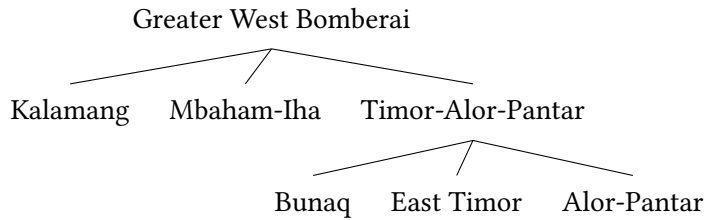


Figure 1: Greater West Bomberai language family

standard negation, the negation of declarative verbal main clauses (Miestamo 2005). Non-clausal negation is described in §3, including negative replies, negative indefinites and negative derivations. I treat other aspects of negation in §4, including among other topics the scope of negation in multi-verb constructions, the negation of quantifiers and reinforcement of negation.

To understand the examples in this chapter, it is good to know that Kalamang has two verb classes: regular and irregular verbs. Regular verbs may end in any phoneme and have an invariable root. Irregular verbs have a vowel-final root, with variants ending in *-n* and *-t*, depending on the inflection the verb carries. Irregular verbs also have two variants when they are uninflected: one vowel-final and one with *-n*, which seem to be used interchangeably. Within the class of irregular verbs there is some minor variation, but most verbs pattern like *bara* ‘to descend’, illustrated in Table 1, where it is contrasted with the regular verb *muap* ‘to eat’.

Table 1: Behaviour of the regular verb *muap* ‘to eat’ and the irregular verb *bara* ‘to descend’

		<i>muap</i> ‘eat’	<i>bara/baran</i> ‘descend’
= <i>i</i>	PLNK	<i>muap=i</i>	<i>baran=i</i>
= <i>et</i>	IRR	<i>muap=et</i>	<i>barat=et</i>
= <i>kin</i>	VOL	<i>muap=kin</i>	<i>barat=kin</i>
= <i>nin</i>	NEG	<i>muap=nin</i>	<i>barat=nin</i>
= <i>in</i>	PROH	<i>muap=in</i>	<i>barat=in</i>
= <i>te</i>	IMP	<i>muap=te</i>	<i>bara=te</i>

Another important aspect of Kalamang grammar is that almost anything can be the predicate (including nouns, nouns inflected with the locative postposition,

numerals and demonstratives), and that mood, aspect and modality enclitics attach to the predicate. There is no tense marking. Note also that Kalamang has no adjective word class: properties like colours and attributes are expressed with monovalent verbs. Attributive use of verbs is indicated with the attributive clitic *=ten*.

All data in this chapter is drawn from the Kalamang corpus, which is based on eleven months of field work carried out by the author between 2015 and 2019. The corpus contains spontaneous conversations and narratives (abbreviated ‘conv’ or ‘narr’), stimulus-based conversations such as director-matcher tasks and stimulus-based narratives such as the pear story (both abbreviated ‘stim’) and elicitation (abbreviated ‘elic’). Examples from recorded natural speech are labelled with the genre and number of the recording and the time stamp of the utterance, e.g. [conv8_2:03], while references to elicited examples code the topic of elicitation, e.g. [elic_dem]. All examples can be found with help of these codes in the corpus.¹ The natural spoken part of the corpus contains 15,5 hours of transcribed recordings, with almost 70000 words in total. A reference grammar of Kalamang is published as Visser (2022).

2 Clausal negation

This section starts with a description of standard negation, the negation of declarative verbal main clauses. It then goes on to discuss negation in non-declarative, non-verbal and non-main clauses, in §§2.2–2.4. Dedicated negative verbs with the meanings ‘not know’, ‘not like’ and ‘cannot’ are discussed in §2.5.

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation is achieved by cliticising negator *=nin* to the predicate. (1) contrasts an affirmative and a negated clause, showing that the only difference between the two is the negator clitic.²

¹The Kalamang corpus can be accessed at <http://hdl.handle.net/10050/00-0000-0000-0003-C3E8-1>. The example tags in this chapter are clickable links that lead to the relevant corpus entry.

²I do not use punctuation in the Kalamang line, because it is the underlying (phonemic) form and because it is often taken from the bigger context of a narrative or conversation, where it is more often than not unclear where the sentence boundaries are. The English translation includes interpunction to increase readability. The interpunction, like the translation itself, is a free interpretation of the original Kalamang.

- (1) a. ma sem
3SG be.afraid
'She's afraid.' [conv11_2:14]
b. ma sem=**nin**
3SG be.afraid=NEG
'She's not afraid.' [narr40_16:33]

(2) and (3) show a negated transitive verb and a negated intransitive stative verb. In both cases, the constituent order of the non-negated counterpart is the same, as is shown in the a-examples.

- (2) a. ma tumun=at kona
3SG child=OBJ see
'He sees the child.' [stim7_25:19]
b. ma yuon=at konat=**nin**
3SG sun=OBJ see=NEG
'He didn't see the sun.' [stim7_22:55]
- (3) a. wa me kang
PROX TOP sharp
'This one is sharp.' [conv18_5:50]
b. wa me mang=**nin**
PROX TOP bitter=NEG
'This one isn't bitter.' [narr34_3:10]

In general, the negative construction is symmetrical to the affirmative. Negative clauses differ from affirmatives in that there are some co-occurrence restrictions with other markers on the predicate.

The clitic =*kin*, used in affirmative clauses for the expression of volition and about-to-happen situations (glossed VOL), is incompatible with predicate negator =*nin*. This is illustrated in example (4). The range of semantic distinctions that =*kin* can express is lost, or underspecified, once a clause is negated. Thus, (4c) is ambiguous between a reading that the child does not want to eat, or any other of the meanings expressed by =*kin* in affirmative clauses, and a plain negation of the verb 'to eat', i.e. 'the child does not eat'. Note that for explicitly expressing 'not want' or 'not agree', the Kalamang speaker can use a dedicated expression *suka*-POSS *ge*, as discussed in §2.5.

- (4) a. tumun muap=kin
 child eat=VOL
 ‘The child wants to eat.’
 b. * tumun muap=**kin=nin**
 child eat=VOL=NEG
 ‘The child doesn’t want to eat.’
 c. tumun muap=**nin**
 child eat=NEG
 ‘The child doesn’t (want to) eat.’ [elic_neg]

Irrealis mood, indicated by the enclitic =*et* on the predicate, is compatible with negator =*nin*, following it. It always gets the reading of a negative conditional, whereas irrealis mood in affirmative clauses is not exclusively used for conditionals. (For a discussion of the form *eranun* ‘cannot’ in (5b) see §2.5.)

- (5) a. ki newer=**et** eba in kahetmat=**et**
 2PL pay=IRR then 1PL.EXCL open=IRR
 ‘If you pay, then we open.’ [narr5_3:46]
 b. ki tok newer=**nin=et** ki sabua nerungga rat-un eranun
 2SG yet pay=NEG=IRR 2PL tent inside.LAT move-NMLZ cannot
 ‘If you haven’t paid yet, you cannot go inside the tent.’ [narr5_2:18]

Two aspectual markers are compatible with negated verbs, but change in meaning. The aspectual particle *tok* ‘yet; still; first’ can be combined with a negated verb to form the meaning ‘not yet’, and iimitive *se* can be combined with a negated verb to form the meaning ‘not any more’.

The word *tok* can mean ‘still’, ‘first’, or ‘yet’. The former two meanings are illustrated in (6a) and (6b) and are used in positive clauses. The use of *tok* with the meaning ‘yet’ is with negated or inherently negative verbs, expressing non-realised expectations, and is called *nondum* (Veselinova & Devos 2021). Thus, in (6c), the expectation is that Nyong’s father will go, but at the time of speaking he has not left.

- (6) a. ma **tok** nawanggar
 3SG still wait
 ‘He still waits.’ [stim29_1:34]
 b. harus an **tok** bo=**et** eciet=**et** eba
 must 1SG first go=IRR return=IRR then
 ‘I must go first, when [I] return, then...’ [conv13_11:15]

- c. Nyong esun tok bot=**nin**
Nyong father.3POSS yet go=NEG
'Nyong's father doesn't go yet.' [conv10_7:16]

The iamitive particle *se*, often translatable as 'already' in positive clauses,³ can be combined with a negated verb to form the meaning 'not any more'. This is illustrated in (7).

- (7) a. in se mia
 1PL.EXCL IAM come
 'We had already come.' [conv8_2:34]
 b. ma se paruot=**nin**
 3SG IAM do=NEG
 'He won't do it any more.' [stim7_28:36]

Table 2 shows the meanings associated with *se* and *tok* in affirmative and negative clauses. As also described in van Baar 1997, 'no longer' is rendered by negation of 'already' and 'not yet' is rendered by negation of 'still'. The negative meanings given in Table 2 hold for use with any negative verb, whether negated with =*nin*, or whether inherently negative or prohibitive.

Table 2: Aspectual particles *se* and *tok* in affirmative and negative clauses.

	iamitive <i>se</i>	nondum <i>tok</i>
affirmative	perfect; already	yet; still; first
negative	no longer	not yet

As stated in §3.2, the meanings 'ever' and 'never' are underspecified. Sentences with 'ever' are translated with iamitive *se*, and those with 'never' with nondum *tok* and a verb negated with =*nin* in elicitation. In the natural spoken corpus one may find sentences that express actions or states that have never been realised before, but that nevertheless are expressed with a nondum, making reference to cultural expectations. After marriage, a woman has to be welcomed with a short

³Iamitives are "more or less grammaticalised markers that have functions shared by 'already' and the perfect" (Olsson 2013: 4). Their semantics also include speaker and cultural expectations. For example, in Kalamang (as in Indonesian) one cannot ask the question 'Are you married?' or 'Do you have children?' without using the iamitive.

ritual in every new house she enters. In (8) a woman who has grown up in the Kalamang community and has been married for more than ten years expresses her surprise at the fact that there are still houses she has never officially entered.

- (8) ba an me tok wandi mengga barat=**nin** tok kewe mengga
 but 1SG TOP yet like.this DIST.LAT descend=NEG yet house DIST.LAT
 sarat=**nin**
 ascend=NEG
 ‘But as for me, I have never gone down there like this, never went up to that house.’ [conv9_22:14]

There is another, minor, strategy to express the meaning ‘not anymore’ than the combination of iative *se* and a negated predicate. The use of *koi* ‘again’ with a negated predicate has the same semantics (parallel to Indonesian *tidak lagi* ‘not again’), as can be seen in (9).

- (9) pi konenen=**nin** koi ran mian=**nin**
 1PL.INCL remember=NEG again go come=NEG
 ‘We don’t have to remember to go back and forth anymore.’ [conv3_3:55]

Give-constructions, with the zero morpheme ‘give’, are negated by attaching =**nin** to the zero morpheme, as (10) illustrates (Visser 2022: 288).

- (10) a. an kon-i ka Ø some
 1SG one-QUANT.OBJ 2SG give ENCRG
 ‘I gave you one, come on!’ [conv12_17:12]
 b. an me ka an Ø=**nin** o
 1SG TOP 2SG 1SG give=NEG EMPH
 ‘Me, you didn’t give me!’ [conv12_17:43]

When the recipient in a give-construction is expressed as a noun instead of as a pronoun, it is followed by benefactive postposition =*ki*.⁴ In a negated clause, the zero morpheme follows the benefactive clitic, and =**nin** is attached to the zero morpheme, as illustrated in (11).

- (11) a. guru dodon=at di=tumtum=**ki** Ø
 teacher thing=OBJ CAUS=child=BEN give
 ‘The teacher gives the children the gift.’ [elic_giv]

⁴The use of causative *di=* is optional both when the recipient is expressed as a noun or as a pronoun.

- b. guru tok dodon=at di=tumtum=ki Ø=**nin**
 teacher yet thing=OBJ CAUS=child=BEN give=NEG
 ‘The teacher hasn’t given the children the gift yet.’ [elic_giv]

Standard negation is also used to negate certain non-verbal predicates, as discussed in §2.3.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Polar questions are formed by adding *ye ge*, literally ‘or not’, at the end of an affirmative clause, as in (12). Leaving *ye ge* out but keeping question intonation is possible, but this is pragmatically weird, because *ye ge* is neutral in the sense that there is no expectation of either a positive or negative answer. (It is possible to only leave out *ye* ‘or’ and keep *ge* ‘not’, but this results in a tag question, as illustrated in example 46 in §3.1).

- (12) mu kat gonggung ter-nan **ye ge**
 3PL 2SG.OBJ call tea-drink or not
 ‘Are they calling you for tea?’ [conv12_20:16]

If one wants to express a negative expectation to an answer, one may use predicate negator =*nin* as in (13). Note that there are no occurrences of this type in the natural spoken corpus.

- (13) ma pasa=at nat=**nin**
 3SG rice=OBJ eat=NEG
 ‘Doesn’t he eat rice?’ [elic_neg]

Prohibitive constructions are marked by the combination of a pronominal suffix *-mun* and a predicate clitic =*in*. The combination of *-mun* and predicate negator =*nin* is ungrammatical. (14) contrasts an imperative and a prohibitive clause.

- (14) a. ka ewa=te
 2SG speak=IMP
 ‘You speak!’ [stim15_0:41]
 b. ka-**mun** se reidak-i ewa=**in**
 2SG-PROH IAM much-QUANT.OBJ speak=PROH
 ‘Don’t you speak much anymore!’ [stim7_21:00]

Other persons than second person singular may be the subject of prohibition, such as ‘smoke’ in (15). Because *-mun* cannot be attached to nouns, the noun is preceded by a pronoun.

- (15) *ma-mun* *dugar* *sara=in*
 3SG-PROH smoke go.up=PROH
 ‘The smoke must not rise!’ [narr40_8:01]

As illustrated in (15), *-mun* cannot be suffixed to nouns. To deal with this, when a speaker wishes to use someone’s title or name, the pronoun with *-mun* follows the noun, as exemplified in (16).

- (16) a. **esa-mun* *sara=in*
 father-PROH go.up=PROH
 ‘Father, don’t go up!’
 b. *esa* *ka-mun* *sara=in*
 father 2SG-PROH go.up=PROH
 ‘Father, don’t (you) go up!’ [elic_proh]

When the pronoun is elided, *-mun* is elided as well, such as in (17).

- (17) *bo* *kuet=te* *tik=in*
 go bring=NFIN take.long=PROH
 ‘Don’t [you] bring it for a long time!’ [narr42_34:19]

All mood, aspect and modality marking is incompatible with the prohibitive, except for the iimitive and nondum. Example (14b) above illustrates the combination of the iimitive *se* and the prohibitive, which results in the meaning ‘not anymore’. The nondum *tok* plus a prohibitive results in the meaning ‘not yet’, illustrated in (18).

- (18) *ki-mun* *tok* *na=in*
 2PL-PROH yet eat=PROH
 ‘Don’t you eat yet!’ [conv11_3:41]

In multi-verb constructions, it is the last verb that carries prohibitive *-in*. It has scope over the whole construction. (19) is one clause.

- (19) *ka-mun* *melelu* *ewa=in*
 2SG-PROH sit speak=PROH
 ‘Don’t you sit speaking!’ [elic_neg19]

One may combine a prohibitive and an imperative in one message as follows in (20), which is biclausal as indicated by square brackets.

- (20) [ka-mun ewa=in] [melelu=te]
 2SG-PROH speak=PROH sit=IMP
 ‘Don’t you speak, sit!’ [elic_neg19]

General prohibition, not directed at a specific person, is expressed with *ka-mun* or *ki-mun*, second person singular or plural, respectively. One could use this for example on a prohibition sign. In spoken Kalamang, one may also leave out the verb, and just say *kamun!* ‘don’t!’ (for example when warning a child against doing something naughty).

It is unclear what the origin of the pronominal suffix *-mun* is. Perhaps there is a relation with the verb *mamun* ‘leave’ (as in ‘leave be; leave in place’). Kuteva et al. (2019) give ‘leave’ as a source for imperatives and negation, but not for prohibitives. It does not seem strange, in any case, that a language would develop a prohibitive marker on the pronoun, seen that prohibition is both urgent and person-oriented. By signalling that one wants to convey a prohibition on the first constituent of the clause, a pronoun, it is immediately clear for the addressee that action (or rather: no action) must be undertaken.

The Kalamang corpus does not contain any examples of “soft prohibitives” akin to Indonesian *tak usah* ‘NEG need’.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Kalamang clauses may have a noun phrase, demonstrative or quantifier as predicate, or a noun inflected with the locative or similitive postposition. Locative and similitive predicates are negated with predicate negator *=nin*, as illustrated in (21), (22) and (23). This also counts for adverbial demonstratives, such as the locative demonstrative *mengga* ‘to/from there’ in (24) or the manner adverb *mind* ‘like that’ in (25).

- (21) a. ma tok kit=ko
 3SG still top=LOC
 ‘He is still on top.’ [stim21_3:08]
 b. ma ewun naun-kit=ko=nin
 3SG root.3POSS soil-top=LOC=NEG
 ‘Its root is not on top of the soil.’ [narr34_4:58]

- (22) a. ka kalamang emumur=kap to
2SG Kalamang woman.PL=SIMV right
'You are like the Kalamang women, aren't you?' [conv12_6:51]
b. wise=kap=nin
long.time.ago=SIMV=NEG
'It's not like it used to be.' [conv9_32:32]
- (23) a. ma se mahara Mustafa mu=konggo
3SG IAM ascend Mustafa 3PL=AN.LOC
'He went up to Mustafa's.' [conv10_3:20]
b. pengalaman kon yume sampi in=konggo=nin
experience one DIST until 1PL.EXCL=AN.LOC=NEG
'That experience hasn't reached us yet.' [narr26_15:54]
- (24) a. an mengga
1SG DIST.LAT
'I went there.' [conv9_24:01]
b. tete Manggan mu tok mengga=nin weinun
grandfather Manggan 3PL yet DIST.LAT=NEG too
'[I] haven't yet been to grandfather Manggan's either.' [conv9_24:27]
- (25) a. in-ninggan mindi
1PL.EXCL-all like.that
'All of us [were invited] like that.' [narr1_0:47]
b. mindi=nin
like.that=NEG
'It's not like that.' [conv7_10:11]

In equational clauses such as (26) and (27), where the predicate is a noun, *ge* 'not' is used because the whole proposition is negated. *Ge* 'not' is clause-final.

- (26) a. ma me ema anggon
3SG TOP mother 1SG.POSS
'She is my mother.' [elic_neg]
b. me me ema anggon ge
DIST TOP mother 1SG.POSS not
'That is not my mother.' [elic_neg]

- (27) a. kon se guru tumtum kon guru
 one IAM teacher children one teacher
 ‘One is already teacher, one child [one of my children] is teacher.’
 [conv12_9:15]
- b. dun-an me me guru ge
 cross.sex.sibling-1SG.POSS DIST TOP teacher not
 ‘My sibling is not a teacher.’ [elic_neg]

Clauses with proper inclusion can alternatively be negated with predicate negator =*nin* as in (28). It is unclear how the meaning of this construction differs from that in (27b).

- (28) dun-an me me guru=*nin*
 cross.sex.sibling-1SG.POSS DIST TOP teacher=NEG
 ‘My sibling is not a teacher.’ [elic_neg]

Quantifiers are not negated. Finally, existential and possessive predication clauses are negated with negative existential *saerak*, which also comes clause-finally. Examples (29) and (30) show existential negation. *Saerak* is the opposite of existential *mambon*, as shown in (31), which together with (32) illustrates the negation of possessive clauses.

- (29) A: ba sor mambon
 but fish EX
 ‘But is there fish?’
 B: sor **saerak**
 fish NEG.EX
 ‘There is no fish.’ [conv5_6:49]
- (30) karena pak **saerak** karek=ki=a kanie
 because nail NEG.EX string=INS=FOC tie
 ‘Because there were no nails [we] tied with string.’ [narr7_1:03]
- (31) utkon kadok-un **mambon** utkon muin **saerak**
 some cloth-3POSS EX some 3PL.POSS NEG.EX
 ‘Some had their cloths, some didn’t have theirs.’ [narr40_19:28]
- (32) tang-un me hal<al>us=ten me **saerak**
 seed-3POSS TOP fine<INTS>=ATTR TOP NEG.EX
 ‘It doesn’t have fine seeds.’ [conv13_5:55]

It is ungrammatical to combine either *mambon* or *saerak* with predicate negator =*nin*. *Saerak* is more common than *mambon*. For negated possessive clauses, *saerak* is obligatory, whereas for affirmative possessive clauses *mambon* only stresses the presence of a possessed item, but is not necessary to express possession. Compare Veselinova 2013, who finds that negative existentials state non-existence or absolute absence rather than negate positive existence. It is unclear what the origin of *saerak* is, and whether it is diachronically composed of several morphemes.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Negative conditional clauses are introduced by *get me* ‘if not’, which is likely derived from *ge* ‘no’ and irrealis clitic =*et*. *Get me* ‘if not’ is illustrated in (33).

- (33) *kacamata-an rat=et eba kawas=at kosiaur=et sin=ka*
 glasses-1SG.POSS move.path=IRR then yarn=OBJ put.in=IRR needle=LAT
get me *eranun*
 not TOP cannot
 ‘If I put on my glasses, then [I can] put the thread through the needle, if not, [I] cannot [do it].’ [conv13_4:50]

Kalamang has only one other type of non-main clause: complement clauses with direct or reported speech. There is no special strategy for negating non-main clauses. This is illustrated with complement clauses introduced by *toni* ‘say’ and *kona* ‘think’ in (34) and (35), respectively.

- (34) a. *ma toni tumun-an boda*
 3SG say child-1SG.POSS stupid
 ‘She says my child is stupid.’ [elic_neg_35]
 b. *ma toni tumun-an boda=nin*
 3SG say child-1SG.POSS stupid
 ‘She says my child is not stupid.’ [elic_neg_36]
- (35) a. *an kona ma-nan bara ming-jie*
 1SG think 3SG-too descend oil-buy
 ‘I thought he went down to buy oil.’ [conv7_5:23]
 b. *an kona in barat=nin*
 1SG think 1PL.EXCL go.down=NEG
 ‘I thought we didn’t go down.’ [conv16_28:32]

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Apart from negative existential *saerak* (the opposite of existential *mambon*), discussed in §2.3, there are three inherently negative verbs: ‘not want; not agree’, ‘cannot’ and ‘not know’. They are listed with their closest positive counterparts in (36–38).

- | | | |
|------|--------------------------------|---|
| (36) | a. <i>lo</i> | ‘to want; to agree’ |
| | b. <i>=kin</i> | volitional verbal clitic |
| | c. <i>suka</i> -POSS <i>ge</i> | ‘to not want; to not agree’ [dictionary] |
| (37) | a. <i>bisa</i> | ‘can’ |
| | b. <i>eranun</i> | ‘cannot; to not be possible’ [dictionary] |
| (38) | a. <i>gonggin</i> | ‘to know’ |
| | b. <i>komahal</i> | ‘to not know’ [dictionary] |

Suka-POSS *ge* is a dedicated negative construction that means ‘not want; not agree’. The construction is made with the borrowed positive verb *suka*,⁵ nominalised by inflection with a possessive suffix and followed by *ge* ‘no; not’. The standard possessive suffix is third person *-un*, which can be used for all persons. A speaker can, however, choose to inflect *suka* with another person. An example with a third person subject *lek* ‘goat’ is given in (39). Inflection for all persons are given in Table 3.

- (39) *canam opa me mat narorar ba lek suka-un ge*
 man DEM TOP 3SG.OBJ lead but goat want-3POSS no
 ‘That man is leading it, but the goat doesn’t want.’ [stim31_0:51]

It is perhaps best to paraphrase *suka*-POSS *ge* as ‘is not of SUBJECT’s liking’. As for the lexical opposite of ‘not want; not agree’, there is a verb *lo* ‘want’, but it is rather uncommon. An example is given in (40a). *Lo* cannot be negated with *=nin*. Wishes and desires are more commonly expressed with volitional *=kin*, see (40b). As illustrated in §2.1, *=kin* and predicate negator *=nin* are incompatible with each other. *Suka*-POSS can also be used in combination with predicate negated with *=nin*, as in (40c). In that case, propositional negator *ge* is not needed.

⁵Compare Indonesian *suka* ‘to like’, also used as habitual marker in colloquial varieties of Indonesian (Connors & Brugman 2014, Jeoung 2020). *Suka* is not used with either of those meanings in Kalamang

Table 3: Inflections of *suka*-poss *ge* ‘to not want; to not agree’.

1SG	<i>an suka-n-an ge</i>
2SG	<i>ka suka-ca ge</i>
3SG	<i>ma suka-un ge</i>
1PL.INCL	<i>pi suka-pe ge</i>
1PL.EXCL	<i>in suka-un ge</i>
2PL	<i>ki suka-ce ge</i>
3PL	<i>mu suka-un ge</i>

- (40) a. an bo mu et-un=at paning paning=i koyet mu se
 1SG go 3SG canoe-3POSS-OBJ ask.for ask.for=PLNK finished 3PL IAM
 lo
 want
 ‘I went to ask for their canoe, after asking, they consented.’
 [narr8_0:12]
- b. bal napikir an sor=at nat=kin
 dog think 1SG fish-OBJ eat=VOL
 ‘The dog thinks: “I want to eat the fish.”’ [stim1_0:34]
- c. sontum haus ba an **suka-n-an** parin=nin
 people thirsty but 1SG want-n-1SG.POSS sell=NEG
 ‘People are thirsty (keen to buy) but I don’t want to sell.’
 [narr42_34:03]

In the pair *bisa* ‘can’/ *eranun* ‘cannot’ we are again dealing with an Indonesian loan, but this time for the positive form: *bisa* also means ‘can’ in Indonesian. But whereas *bisa* in Indonesian is negated with standard negation marker *tidak* (*tidak bisa* ‘cannot’), Kalamang has a dedicated form *eranun*. The use of *eranun* triggers nominalisation of the negated proposition with *-un*. *Eranun* is clause-final. They are illustrated in (41).

- (41) a. ka marua hukat yume **bisa**
 2SG towards.sea fishing.net DIST can
 ‘Can you go seawards with the fishing net?’ [conv1_2:56]
- b. ning-kabor pasiengga bor-un **eranun**
 sick-stomach to.beach go-3POSS cannot
 ‘[If you have] stomachache [you] cannot go to the toilet.’
 [conv20_15:58]

An alternative translation of the construction *V-un eranun* might be ‘V-ing isn’t possible’, such that (41b) translates as ‘toilet-going isn’t possible.’

The pair *gonggin* ‘to know’/*komahal* ‘to not know’ is illustrated in (42). Note also *yeso* ‘I don’t know’ in (42a). This is a clause-initial interjection uttered at high pitch which expresses indignation, and not a verb like *komahal*. It can only be used with reference to a first person subject.

- (42) a. *yeso* *ka-tain=a* ***gonggin***
 I.don’t.know 2SG-alone=FOC know
 ‘I don’t know, only you know.’ [conv12_18:43]
- b. *ema* *tamatko eh* *ema* *in-nan* ***komahal***
 mother where INJ mother 1PL.EXCL-too not.know
 ‘Where’s mother?’ ‘Eh, we don’t know either.’ [narr40_5:19]

Negation of any of the verbs discussed in this section, whether they are positive or negative forms, with predicate negator *=nin* is ungrammatical. The negative verbs and constructions in this section behave like other negated verbs with aspectual particles *iamitive se* and *nondum tok*, giving them the meanings ‘not anymore’ and ‘(not) yet’, as illustrated in (43).

- (43) *an tok komahal*
 1SG yet not.know
 ‘I don’t know yet.’ [stim27_7:32]

3 Non-clausal negation

In this section I discuss constructions expressing negation other than clausal negation, starting with negative replies in §3.1. Negative indefinites and quantifiers are dealt with in §3.2 and negative derivation is treated in §3.3.

3.1 Negative replies

The negative reply is *ge*, which is the same as the propositional negator, and serves to negate the preceding proposition. The affirmative reply *ya* or *yo* is less frequent, perhaps because there are more strategies to agree with someone or with a preposition, such as *haidak* ‘true’ and *yor* ‘true’. A piece of discourse with a negative reply with (a repeated) *ge* is given in (44).

- (44) A: an toni ka Ø to [...]
 1SG think 2SG give right [...]
 ‘I thought I gave [it] to you, right [...]?’

B: **ge ge**
 no no
 ‘No, no.’

A: tamandi=a **ge**
 how=FOC no
 ‘What do you mean “no”?’

B: ka di=an Ø=nin
 2SG CAUS=1SG give=NEG
 ‘You didn’t give [it] to me.’ [conv12_17:05]

An affirmative example from the same text is (45).

- (45) A: manadu naun tem~temun eh
 taro fruit INTS~big TAG
 ‘A big taro, eh?’

B: **yo**
 yes
 ‘Yes.’ [conv12_0:23]

Ge seems to disagree with the content of the question, not with its polarity. That is, whether or not there is negation in the question seems to be irrelevant. Consider the four questions in (46). For all of them, if they are answered with *ge*, it means that the child is not crying. As there are no examples of negated questions answered with *ge* in the corpus, this had to be elicited.

- (46) a. tumun wa me ecuan
 child PROX TOP cry
 ‘Is this child crying?’
 b. tumun wa me ecuat=nin
 child PROX TOP cry=NEG
 ‘Is this child not crying? / Isn’t this child crying?’
 c. tumun wa me ecuan, **ge**
 child PROX TOP cry no
 ‘This child is crying, isn’t it?’

- d. tumun wa me ecuan ye ge
 child PROX TOP cry or not
 ‘Is this child crying or not?’ [elic_neg]

If these are answered with an affirmative reply, it means the child is crying. For example (46a), the affirmative answer may be just *ya/yo* ‘yes’, *yor* ‘true’ or *haidak* ‘true’. For examples (46b-46d), seen that they already contain a negation, it is more natural for the answer to (also) contain a repetition of the clause, as in (47).

- (47) A: yua me pulisi=a wa ye ge
 PROX TOP police=FOC PROX or not
 ‘This one, is this the police or not?’
 B: pulisi=a wa
 police=FOC PROX
 ‘This is the police.’ [stim6_11:24]

There are two common answers involving *ge* to the questions *nebara paruo* ‘what are you doing’, *tamanggara bot* and ‘where are you going’, which are used as greetings. They are illustrated in (48).

- (48) A: nebara paruo / tamanggara bot
 what.OBJ.FOC do / where.LAT go
 ‘What are [you] doing?’ / ‘Where are you going?’
 B: ge o / ge mera
 no EMPH / no INJ
 ‘Oh, nothing/nowhere.’ [overheard]

Both *ge o* and *ge mera* mean ‘nothing’ or ‘nowhere’ and downplay the importance of the speaker’s activity or destination.⁶ It is wrong to answer just **ge* ‘no’ in this context. By using *ge o*, the speaker affirms that he or she is doing nothing of importance, or nothing that he or she wants to elaborate on. (49) is another illustration of *ge mera*, used in a conversation acted out by one speaker. *Ge mera* can also be used as an answer to other questions, as illustrated in (50), where it functions as an ironic or denigrating comment on the yield of the speaker’s husband.

⁶ *Mera* is an interjection expressing downplay, obviousness or encouragement. In combination with *ge* ‘no’ it always expresses downplay.

- (49) “Ka tamanggara bot?” “Ge mera!” “Ka nebara paruo?”
 ka tamangga=ta bot **ge.mera** ka neba=at=a paruo
 2SG to.where=*ta* go nothing 2SG what=OBJ=FOC do
 “Ge mera, in pasakajie reba!”
ge.mera in pasa-kajie=teba
 nothing 1PL.EXCL rice-pick=PROG
 “Where are you going?” “Nowhere!” “What are you doing?” “Oh,
 nothing, just picking rice!” [conv13_10:44]
- (50) A: wis ma ramie
 yesterday 3SG pull
 ‘Did he catch any fish yesterday?’
 B: **ge.mera** tagier-un et-kon
 nothing mackerel-3POSS ANML.CLF-one
 ‘Nothing, he had one mackerel.’ [conv10_8:24]

Tok ‘still; yet; first’ (discussed in §2.1) can also be an interjection meaning either ‘yes (still)’ or ‘no (not yet)’, depending on whether the question contained a negative or not. This contrast is illustrated in (51) and (52).

- (51) A: ka tok sekola
 2SG still go.to.school
 ‘Do you still go to school?’
 B: tok
 still
 ‘Yes [I still go to school].’ [elic_wc19]
- (52) A: ka tok sekola=nin
 2SG yet go.to.school=NEG
 ‘Don’t you go to school yet?’
 B: tok
 not.yet
 ‘Not yet.’ [elic_wc19]

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Negative indefinites, meanings related to English nobody, no-one, nowhere, never, none and no (Haspelmath 1997), are expressed with a number of strategies. Most

strategies are the same as positive indefinites in combination with a negated verb. Some indefinite strategies seem to be unique to negatives. These are the constructions with *-barak* ‘any’, which must be combined with a negated verb, and constructions with *don konkon V=nin* ‘not any(thing)’. Table 4 summarises the constructions and their translational equivalents discussed in this section. Sometimes there are two translational equivalents for one construction. For each construction is indicated whether it is found in the natural spoken corpus or not. It is also indicated whether the construction is parallel to the positive indefinite (except for the negator, of course).

Table 4: Indefinite constructions. Q = question word, V = verb, N = noun (phrase)

construction and gloss	translational equivalent	corpus?	same as positive?
<i>biar</i> Q= <i>taet-o</i> V= <i>nin</i> although Q-again=COND V=NIN	not anybody, not anywhere	no	yes
N- <i>barak</i> V= <i>nin</i> N-any V-NEG	no-one, not any	no-one: no, not any: yes	no
Q-Q V= <i>nin</i> Q-RED V-NEG	not anywhere	no	yes
<i>don konkon</i> V= <i>nin</i> thing one~RED V-NEG	not any(thing)	yes	no
V= <i>nin=i koyet</i> V-NEG=PLNK finished	not any	no	no

Constructions with *naman=taet=o* ‘anybody’ or *tamatko=taet=o* ‘anywhere’ do not occur in the corpus, and elicited examples are complicated strategies rather than set constructions, relying partly on Indonesian loans, suggesting that these indefinites are not well-established. Consider (53a) and (54a), which make use of the Indonesian loan *biar* ‘although’,⁷ *-taet* ‘more; again’ and conditional *-o* on a question word, and relativiser *-ten* and *-saet* ‘only; exclusively; all’ on a verb. In the negated versions of these sentences, two strategies are adopted. In (53b), a suffix *-barak* ‘any’ is added to the NP, followed by a negative verb. In (54b), the same strategy as in the positive examples is applied, at least with *biar* and *-taet* and *-o* on the question word, followed by a negative verb.

- (53) a. *biar naman=taet=o bisa paruoŋ pi=ninggan bisa-ten=saet*
 although who-again=COND can do 1PL.INCL-all can-ATTR=only
 ‘Anyone can do it, we all can do it.’ [elic_ind]

⁷In Indonesian, but not in Kalamang, *biar* can also mean ‘let’.

- b. som kon-**barak** karajang-un **eranun**
 person one-any work-NMLZ cannot
 ‘No-one can do the work.’ [elic_ind]
- (54) a. sor kerkap-ten wa me tamatko-taet=o mambon-ten=saet
 fish red-ATTR PROX TOP where-again=COND EX-ATTR=only
 ‘There’s red fish everywhere.’ [elic_ind]
- b. lawan wa me **biar** tamatko-taet=o **saerak**
 grouper PROX TOP although? where-again=COND NEG.EX
 ‘There are no groupers anywhere.’ [elic_ind]

The strategy with *-barak* ‘any’ is found several times in the corpus, such as in (55). *-barak* ‘any’ is a negative polarity item that has to be accompanied by a negated verb, such as *konatnin* ‘not see’ in (55). It is also used as ‘even’ in negative clauses. *-barak* ‘any’ was also elicited with the meaning ‘not any’, see (56) (although this is arguably the same meaning as in (53b), which could be paraphrased as ‘not any person’).

- (55) lampur-**barak** ma konat=**nin**
 lamp-any 3SG see=NEG
 ‘He didn’t see any lamp.’ [stim7_29:22]
- (56) sairarar reidak ba kon-**barak** an jiet=**nin**
 lobster many but one-any 1SG get=NEG
 ‘There were many lobsters but I didn’t get any.’ [elic_neg]

Another strategy to create indefinites, both negative and positive, is by full reduplication (a common cross-linguistic strategy, Haspelmath 1997: 179). (57) illustrates the meanings ‘anywhere’ and ‘not anywhere’, which are both created by reduplicating the question word *tamangga* ‘to/from where’. The negated version is made by negating the verb.

- (57) a. an marmar=i tamangga~tamangga bisa bot
 1SG walk=PLNK to.where~RED can go
 ‘I can walk anywhere.’ [elic_neg]
- b. **tamangga~tamangga**=ta an bot=**nin**
 to.where~RED=ta 1SG go=NEG
 ‘I don’t (want to) go anywhere.’ [elic_neg]

Reduplication is also used to create yet another instance of ‘not any’, as in (58).

- (58) ma don kon~kon paruot=**nin**
3SG thing one~RED do=NEG
'He didn't do anything.' [stim7_25:50]

Note that negator =*nin* can also be added directly to *don konkon* to create the meaning 'it doesn't matter', as in (59). There is no positive variant of either *don konkon V=nin* or *don konkonin*.

- (59) ma miat=**nin**=et eh don kon~kon=**nin**
3SG come=NEG=IRR INJ thing one~RED=NEG
'She didn't come, it doesn't matter.' [conv7_11:27]

One strategy to create the meaning 'no-one' or 'nobody', with *-barak* 'any' and a negated verb, was shown in (53b). Another strategy is to negate the construction =*i koyet*, literally the predicate linker and the verb 'to be finished', but here used to mean 'all'. This is shown in (60).

- (60) a. tabaruop-bon=**i** koyet
lead-COM=PLNK finished
'[The sinkers are] all with lead.' [stim16_1:28]
b. an jiet=**nin**=**i** koyet
1SG get=NEG=PLNK finished
'I didn't get any.' [elic_neg]

The meanings 'ever' and 'never' are underspecified. Sentences with 'ever' are translated with iimitive *se*, and those with 'never' with nondum *tok* and a verb negated with =*nin*. These constructions are also used to create meanings such as 'already' and 'not yet' (§4).

The quantifier *reingge* 'not much/many' is the negation of quantifiers *reidak* 'many, much', *ikon* 'some, a few' and *taukon* 'some, a few'. Consider (61).

- (61) mu buoksarun=at paruo ba bolodak to sontum tok **reingge**
3PL offering=OBJ make but just.little right people yet not.many
'They made the offerings, but just a little, right, there weren't many people yet.' [narr7_0:49]

Reingge 'not much/many' is a contraction of a morpheme *rei-* with unknown meaning (though compare *reidak* 'much/many') and propositional negator and negative answer *ge*.

3.3 Negative derivation

There are no morphological ways to derive negative forms from nouns. The only kind of negative derivation is with the inherently negative verb *eranun* ‘cannot’, which triggers nominalisation of the verb it follows. Consider (62). Perhaps a better paraphrase of the example is ‘cooking is not possible’. *Eranun* ‘cannot’ is also discussed in §2.5.

- (62) pi pasor kuar-un eranun
 1PL.INCL fry cook-NMLZ cannot
 ‘We fry, [we] cannot cook.’ [conv4_3:46]

4 Other aspects of negation

Here I will discuss aspects of negation that have not been treated in §2 or §3. I will describe the marking and scope of negation in multi-verb constructions (§4.1), negative polarity (§4.2), marking of NPs under negation (§4.3), reinforcing negation (§4.4), and, finally, negation in complex clauses (§4.5).

4.1 The scope of negation

In negated multi-verb constructions,⁸ predicate negator *=nin* comes on the last verb and has scope over the entire construction. When *=nin* comes on the first of a series of two verbs, or when both verbs are negated with *=nin*, the construction is biclausal. This is marked with intonation, with the repetition of the subject, and/or with conjunction *ba* ‘but’, preferably with all three. (63) illustrates all possible placements of predicate negator *=nin* in a multi-verb construction with two verbs.

- (63) a. canam marmar mia
 man walk come
 ‘The man comes walking.’
 b. canam marmar miat=*nin*
 man walk come=NEG
 ‘The man doesn’t come walking.’

⁸Because multi-verb constructions may be linked by the predicate linker *=i* or non-final *=te* on the first verb, these constructions are not defined as serial verb constructions, following the criteria in Haspelmath 2016.

- c. canam mian ba ma marmar=**nin**
man come but 3SG walk=NEG
'The man comes but he isn't walking.'
- d. canam miat=**nin** ba ma marmar=teba
man come=NEG but 3SG walk=PROG
'The man doesn't come, but he's walking.' [elic_neg]

Speakers disprefer clauses where the first in a series of two verbs was negated, or where both verbs were, but where the two verbs were not separated with repetition of the subject or with *ba*. That is, forms like *marmarnin mia*, *miatnin marmar* and *marmarnin miatnin* were usually rejected.

Negated multi-verb constructions in the corpus are rare, but (64) is an example.

- (64) pi nabestai nain mengga marmar=i erat=**nin**
1PL.INCL well like DIST.LAT walk=PLNK go.uphill=NEG
'Usually we don't walk up the hill.' [conv9_24:36]

4.2 Negative polarity

Except for *-barak* 'any' and the constructions with *don konkonin* 'it doesn't matter' and *don konkon V=nin* 'not any', discussed in §3.2, there are no negative polarity items.

4.3 The marking of NPs in the scope of negation

NPs in the scope of negation are not marked any differently than those in affirmative clauses.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The generic emphatic interjection *o* can be added to basically anything. It is also seen after *ge* 'no; not' and predicate negator *=nin*. (65) illustrates a reinforced negation with *=nin*, and (66) illustrates a reinforced negation with *ge*, as part of an exchange between two people doing a picture matching task. (66) also has reinforcer *o*.

- (65) an paruot=**nin** o
1SG do=NEG EMPH
'I won't do it!' [conv12_10:09]

- (66) A: coba an tok sanggarat=et anggon=at
 try 1SG still search=IRR 1SG.POSS=OBJ
 ‘Try, I’m still searching mine.’
 B: tok mambara opa me mm ge o
 still standing DEM TOP INJ no EMPH
 ‘That one where [he’s] still standing, hmm, no.’ [stim42_13:02]

4.5 Negation and complex clauses

There are no special ways to negate complex clauses. Two coordinated negatives or a coordinated positive and negative do not have any special effects. Thus, each clause in a coordination can be negated with predicate negator =*nin*, as illustrated in (67). There are no negative conjunctions. Note that the conjunction *ba* ‘but’ is only used when there is a mismatch between the two actions, i.e. when there is negation in one clause but not in the other, as in (67b) and (67c).

- (67) a. Tumun ma me ewanin, ma tirinin.
 tumun ma me ewa=**nin** ma tiri=**nin**
 child 3SG TOP speak=NEG 3SG run=NEG
 ‘That child, he doesn’t speak and he doesn’t run.’
 b. Tumun ma me ewa ba, ma tirinin.
 tumun ma me ewa ba ma tiri=**nin**
 child 3SG TOP speak but 3SG run=NEG
 ‘That child, he speaks but he doesn’t run.’
 c. Tumun ma me ewanin ba, ma tiri.
 tumun ma me ewa=**nin** ba ma tiri
 child 3SG TOP speak=NEG but 3SG run
 ‘That child, he doesn’t speak but he runs.’ [elic_neg]

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4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

The propositional negator and negative answer *ge* ‘no’ is used in two non-negative contexts. First, it is used as a confirmation tag, as in (68). Second, it is used to form polar questions, as in (69). Note that *mu sem ge* in (68) cannot mean ‘they are not afraid’, as *sem* is a stative verb ‘to be afraid’ which has to carry the verbal negation marker =*nin* in order to be negated.

- (68) mu sem ge
 3PL afraid no.TAG
 ‘They were afraid, you see?’ [narr40_15:32]

- (69) ma sungsung=at napaki **ye ge**
3SG pants=OBJ use or not
'Is he wearing pants?' [narr17_0:45]

An apparent derivative from *ge* is *gen* 'maybe'. There is no productive morphology that explains the *-n* in *gen*. An example is given in (70). *Gen* is either clause-initial or follows the subject.

- (70) ma **gen** sara tabai-jie
3SG maybe go.up tobacco-buy
'Maybe he came up to buy tobacco?' [conv9_22:03]

5 Summary

Kalamang has three main morphemes that aid in the construction of negative clauses and negation: predicate negator =*nin*, propositional negator and negative answer *ge*, and existential negator *saerak*. The forms and functions are summarised in Table 5.

Table 5: Summary of negation in Kalamang

Form	Function
PRED= <i>nin</i>	standard negator
<i>ge</i>	propositional negator, negative answer
<i>saerak</i>	existential negator, negator of possessive clause
PRO= <i>mun</i> PRED= <i>in</i>	prohibitive

Standard negation is done with negator =*nin*. This is a clitic that attaches to the predicate, and which is thus also used for non-verbal predicates like locatives. *Ge* is the propositional negator, used in for example negated equational clauses. It is also the negative answer. *Saerak* is the existential negator, and is also used for negation of possessive clauses. There is little that sets positive and negative clauses apart, with the NP remaining the same and most clausal modifiers available also under negation. The prohibitive is formed with two markers at different places in the clause: a suffix *-mun* on the pronoun and a dedicated morpheme =*in* on the predicate. There do not seem to be well-established negative indefinite constructions, except for the reduplication of *kon* 'one'. The only negative derivation happens with use of the dedicated negative verb *eranun* 'cannot', which triggers nominalisation of the preceding verb. Iamitive *se* and non-dum *tok* interact with all kinds of negation, be it standard negation, inherently

negative verbs or otherwise negated clauses to form the meanings ‘not anymore’ and ‘not yet’. Nondum *tok*, like *ge*, can also be used as a negative answer. *Ge* has several derivatives, such as *get me*, which introduces negative conditionals, and *gen* ‘maybe’. It is also used non-negatively as a confirmation tag and in polar questions.

Abbreviations

1	first person	INS	instrumental
2	second person	INJ	interjection
3	third person	INTS	intensifier
AN	animate	IRR	irrealis
ATTR	attributive	LAT	lative
ANML	animals	LOC	locative
BEN	benefactive	NEG	negator, negative
CAUS	causative	NMLZ	nominaliser
CLF	classifier	OBJ	object marker
COND	conditional	PROG	progressive
COM	comitative	PL	plural
DEM	demonstrative	PLNK	predicate linker
DIST	distal	POSS	possessive
EMPH	emphasis marker	PRED	predicate
ENCRG	interjection of (annoyed) encouragement	PRO	pronoun
		PROH	prohibitive
		PROX	proximal
EXCL	exclusive	QUANT	quantifier
EX	existential	RED	reduplication
FOC	focus	SIMV	similative
IAM	iamitive	SG	singular
IMP	imperative	TAG	sentence tag
INCL	inclusive	TOP	topic
		VOL	volitional

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Negation in Murrinhpatha

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This chapter discusses negation strategies in Murrinhpatha (ISO: **mwf**, Glottocode: **murr1258**), a non-Pama-Nyungan polysynthetic language from the Daly region of northern Australia. Murrinhpatha is spoken by 2500-3000 people, mainly located in the remote township of Wadeye (Port Keats) in the Northern Territory, where it is the language of daily communication and one of a small number of Australian languages still learned as a first language by all children in the community. Standard negation structures in Murrinhpatha are typical for languages of northern Australia, with an initial negative particle combining with a verb in irrealis mood; therefore of the mixed TypeSymAsy category of **Miestamo (2013)**. The expression of negative existence and possession requires a distinct construction type involving specialized negative predicates formed from the nominal classifiers. Such a system appears new to the typological literature on negation.

Keywords: Australian languages, nominal classifiers, irrealis, negation, Murrinhpatha.

1 The language

This chapter discusses negation strategies in Murrinhpatha (ISO: **mwf**, Glottocode: **murr1258**), a non-Pama-Nyungan polysynthetic language from the Daly region of northern Australia. Murrinhpatha is spoken by 2500-3000 people, mainly located in the remote township of Wadeye (Port Keats) in the Northern Territory. Murrinhpatha is the primary language of daily communication in Wadeye and surrounding communities, and one of a small number of Australian languages still learned as a first language by all children in the community. It is therefore one of the stronger traditional languages in the Australian context.

In early research Murrinhpatha was assumed to be a language isolate (**Tryon 1974**), but more recently it has been shown to belong to the Southern Daly family with Ngan'gityemerri (**Green 2003**). Broader relationships are as yet unestab-

lished, but there are clear areal (or possibly genetic) similarities with the Western Daly family, as discussed in Nordlinger (2017). Aspects of the grammatical structure of Murrinhpatha have been described by a number of researchers, most notably Walsh (e.g. 1976; 1996; 1997), Street (e.g. 1987; 1996), and more recently Blythe (e.g. 2009; 2013), Mansfield (e.g. 2014; 2016; 2019) and Nordlinger (e.g. 2010; 2011; 2015; 2017), but none of these publications have focused in detail on negation.

Murrinhpatha shares many typological characteristics common to polysynthetic languages, including syntactically free clausal word order, optionality of argument NPs, and a complex verbal template. This means that clauses often consist of just a verb, and that external NPs for arguments are often not present. Verbs in Murrinhpatha are (mostly) complex predicates, made up of two discontinuous stem elements which together define the predication semantics and argument structure. These are referred to as the ‘classifier stem’ and the ‘lexical stem’. Classifier stems belong to 38 distinct paradigms encoding generic event-classifying semantics and also encode tense/mood and subject person and number. 11 of the 38 classifier stems can occur alone as the sole verbal predicate. Lexical stems provide more specific lexical semantics and can never occur alone without combining with a classifier stem.¹

The basic templatic structure of the Murrinhpatha verb is shown in Table 1;² the two stem elements are given here in bold. The only truly obligatory slot in the verb is Slot 1, since some verbs can consist of just a classifier stem, but most verbs are complex predicates, and so have slots 1 and 5 minimally filled.

Table 1: Murrinhpatha basic verbal template

Slot 1	Slot 2	Slot 3	Slot 4	Slot 5	Slot 6	Slot 7	Slot 8	Slot 9
Classifier stem (portmanteau with SUBJ person/ number and TAM)	SUBJ Number / OBJ marker / OBL marker	Reflexive- reciprocal	Incorporated body part / Applicative	Lexical Stem	Tense/ aspect/ mood (TAM)	Incorporated adverbial	Number (SUBJ or OBJ)	Incorporated adverbial

This chapter aims to provide a detailed overview of negation and negation constructions in Murrinhpatha. Some features of negation constructions in Murrinhpatha that have not been discussed in the literature before include the polarity

¹For a more detailed discussion of the system see Nordlinger (2015), Mansfield (2019), and the references cited therein.

²Mansfield (2019) notes some variation in morph order on the right edge of this template, especially in the speech of younger speakers, but this variation doesn’t affect the data being discussed in this paper.

reversal that arises from the use of irrealis mood in both negative declarative and negative deontic constructions, which results in a single clause being ambiguous between meanings with opposite truth conditions (e.g. ‘didn’t do’ vs ‘shouldn’t do (but did)’ (§2.1); and the existence of negative classifier predicates to express negative existence and negative possession (§2.3.3).

The data for this chapter is taken primarily from my fieldwork on the language since 2005; a collaborative Murrinhpatha corpus (Mansfield et al. 2019) with contributions from a number of researchers; a corpus shared with me by Joe Blythe, and published sources on Murrinhpatha. The source of each example is provided – those from my own fieldwork recordings are identified with RN in the source code; those from Joe Blythe’s corpus are marked with JB. All examples provided here are from spontaneous natural speech unless marked as elicited.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation in Murrinhpatha is expressed with a negative particle before the verb. The verb must also be inflected with the irrealis mood (see below for further discussion). There are a few different negative particles in the corpus, which appear to vary in use amongst speakers, as described below. The most common negator is *mere*, as in (1b) and (2b).³ When speakers are asked to provide the negative equivalent of a declarative sentence (as in (2a)), this is the negator that is typically used (as in (2b)).

- (1) a. berengunh ngam-rilil
 already 1SG.SBJ.POKE(19).NFUT-write
 ‘I wrote it down already.’ (MP-20100917-RN01)
- b. **mere** nge-rilil-dha
 NEG 1SG.SBJ.POKE(19).PST:IRR-write-PST
 ‘I didn’t write it down.’ (MP-20100917-RN01)
- (2) a. pan-ngi-bat
 3SG.SBJ.SLASH(23).NFUT-1SGO-hit
 ‘He hit me.’ (elicited, RN-20090930-002:079)
- b. **mere** puy-ngi-bat-dha
 NEG 3SG.SBJ.SLASH(23).PST:IRR-1SG.OBJ-hit-PST
 ‘He didn’t hit me.’ (elicited, MP-20100917-RN01)

³Although analysed as a particle, in fast speech *mere* often is reduced to a proclitic *me=*.

Other negative particles are *marda* (3) and *manangka* (4). The choice of negative particle appears to be motivated by sociolinguistic variation, rather than by semantic function: *marda* is reported by Walsh (1976: 215) to be the main clausal negator at the time of his fieldwork, but it is now used by only the oldest speakers; *manangka* is more usually a nominal negator (see §2.3.1) but is being extended to clausal negation as well, in free variation with *mere*. Example (4) is from an elicitation session where the speaker was asked how to say ‘he didn’t come’. They replied initially with (4a) and then followed with (4b), describing the two options as being equivalent. An example of this use in spontaneous speech is given in (5).

- (3) **marda** the ma-bath
 NEG ear 1SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-have
 ‘I don’t know.’ (Street & Street 1989 #marda)
- (4) a. **mere** wurri-dha
 NEG 3SG.SBJ.GO(6).PST:IRR-PST
 ‘He didn’t come.’ (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)
- b. **manangka** wurri-dha
 NEG 3SG.SBJ.GO(6).PST:IRR-PST
 ‘He didn’t come.’ (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)
- (5) **ba manangka** parne-kut-dha-neme,
 oh NEG 3DU.SBJ.BE(4).PST:IRR-collect-PST-PC.M
 pibim-wirra-puth-neme
 3DU.SBJ.STAND(3).NFUT-3PL.OBL-throw_away-PC.M
 ‘Oh they didn’t keep (the gun), they threw it away from them.’ (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2012-06-02_P-D-W)

The negative particle almost always immediately precedes the verb, as in the above examples. However, temporal affixes (6) and adverbials (7) come between *mere* and the verb. There are also a small number of examples in which noun class markers (8) and pronouns (9) come between the negative particle and the verb, but as shown by the (b) examples, this is not obligatory and these elements are regularly found to the left of the negative particle in other examples. There are no examples in the corpus of a complex NP or anything more than a single word coming between the two.

- (6) mere-warda ngena-nham-dha ngay-yu
 NEG-TEMP 1SG.SBJ.POKE:RR(21).PST:IRR-fear-PST 1SG-DM
 ‘I wasn’t frightened anymore.’ (MP-20100916-RN01)

- (7) a. murrinh mere thatpirr nge-riwatha-dha
 CLF:LANG NEG correctly 1SG.SBJ.POKE(19).PST:IRR-do.properly-PST
 ‘I didn’t really say it the right way.’ (JB20050703JB02.txt)
- b. mere dangatha ngurri-dha Perrederr-yu
 NEG YET 1SG.SBJ.GO(6)-PST Perrederr-DM
 ‘I’ve not yet been to Perrederr.’ (MP-20180718-RN01)
- (8) a. ngay-ka mere murrinh ma-mpa-bath
 1SG-TOP NEG CLF:LANG 1SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-2SG.OBL-have
 ‘I don’t believe you.’ (JB20070728JBvid01c.txt)
- b. murrinh mere puddi-ngarra-riyith-dha
 CLF:LANG NEG 3PL.SBJ.SHOVE(29).PST:IRR-1PL.EXCL.OBL-explain-PST
 ‘They didn’t tell us the story.’ (MP-20120724-RN01)
- (9) a. awu, mere ngay nge-ngurru-dha
 no NEG 1SG 1SG.SBJ.POKE(19).PST:IRR-provoke-PST
 ‘No, I did not threaten him.’ (Ford & McCormack 2011: 8)
- b. awu, ngay-ka mere nge-rdarrup-dha
 no 1SG-TOP NEG 1SG.SBJ.POKE(19).PST:IRR-cover-PST
 ‘No, I didn’t cover it up.’ (Ford & McCormack 2011: 13)

In Miestamo’s (2005) terms, these negative clauses in Murrinhpatha show constructional symmetry since the only structural distinction between the negative clause and the corresponding affirmative construction is the presence of the negative marker. However, the verb in negative clauses must always be in irrealis mood – realis tense categories are excluded from being in the scope of the negative particle – and thus we have paradigmatic asymmetry: realis affirmative clauses are negated with the irrealis mood, as can be seen in (1) above. In (1a) the classifier stem is in the (realis) non-future form, whereas in the negative equivalent in (1b) the classifier stem is in the past irrealis form (see Nordlinger & Caudal (2012) for detailed discussion of the tense/aspect/mood system in Murrinhpatha). Thus, Murrinhpatha belongs to the mixed TypeSymAsy category of Miestamo (2013) and the paradigmatic asymmetry is of the A/NonReal subtype (Miestamo 2005; Miestamo 2013), similar to many other northern Australian languages (Miestamo 2007).

In order to mark imperfective aspect, one of a small set of classifier stems is encliticised to the end of the main verb (Nordlinger & Caudal 2012), as shown in (10). The encliticised classifier must also appear in the irrealis form in negative

constructions, showing it to be within the scope of the negative operator. This is shown in the contrast between (10a) and its negative counterpart (10b): in (10b) both the classifier in the main verb (*ka-*) and the encliticised classifier *=ki* must appear in the future irrealis form.

- (10) a. *dam-rilil=dim*
3SG.SBJ.POKE(19).NFUT-write=3SG.SBJ.SIT(1).NFUT
'He's writing it down.' (elicited, MP-20100917-RN01)
- b. *mere ka-rilil=ki*
NEG 3SG.SBJ.POKE(19).FUT:IRR-write=3SG.SBJ.SIT(1).FUT:IRR
'He's not writing it down.' (elicited, MP-20100917-RN01)

The tense/aspect/mood system of Murrinhpatha makes a different set of tense distinctions in the realis mood than in the irrealis mood (Nordlinger & Caudal 2012). Since negative clauses are restricted to irrealis mood inflections only, negative clauses make different tense distinctions to their affirmative counterparts. This results in a derived asymmetry (Miestamo 2013) as the asymmetry arises from the properties of the tense/aspect/mood system so cannot be attributed to the negative construction directly, but it is nonetheless a characteristic of negative clauses. The traditional pattern is shown in Table 2, and exemplified below.

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Table 2: Murrinhpatha TAM inflection in positive and negative clauses (Nordlinger & Caudal 2012)

		TAM category expressed					
		realis				irrealis	
		Past im- perfective	Past per- fective	Present	Future	Future	Past
TAM inflection on classifier stem	Positive polarity	PST:IPFV	NFUT		FUT	FUT:IRR	PST:IRR
	Negative polarity	PST:IRR		FUT:IRR			PST:IRR

For example, in affirmative clauses with telic predicates, the non-future tense is used for present and past events (11a, 11b), and the future tense for future events (11c):

- (11) a. dam-rilil=dim
 3SG.SBJ.POKE(19).NFUT-write=3SG.SBJ.SIT(1).NFUT
 ‘He’s writing it down.’ (constructed, for illustration)
- b. dam-rilil
 3SG.SBJ.POKE(19).NFUT-write
 ‘He wrote it down.’ (constructed, for illustration)
- c. pa-rilil-nu
 3SG.SBJ.POKE(19).FUT-write-FUT
 ‘He will write it down.’ (constructed, for illustration)

In the irrealis paradigm, however, present and future tense are expressed with the future irrealis while past tense is expressed with the past irrealis. Thus, while (11a) and (11b) involve the same realis tense form of the classifier stem, their negative counterparts use distinct irrealis forms (12a, 12b). Example (11c), on the other hand, which is marked with a distinct form in the affirmative, uses the same irrealis classifier stem form as the present tense (12a) in the negative (12c).

- (12) a. mere ka-rilil=ki
 NEG 3SG.SBJ.POKE(19).FUT:IRR-write=3SG.SBJ.SIT(1).FUT:IRR
 ‘He’s not writing it down.’ (constructed, for illustration)
- b. mere de-rilil-dha
 NEG 3SG.SBJ.POKE(19).PST:IRR-write-PST
 ‘He didn’t write it down.’ (constructed, for illustration)
- c. mere ka-rilil-nu
 NEG 3SG.SBJ.POKE(19).FUT:IRR-write-FUT
 ‘He won’t write it down.’ (constructed, for illustration)

Table 2 above presents the traditional system, but in present day Murrinhpatha the distinction between the future irrealis and the past irrealis is being reanalysed, with the future irrealis forms coming to be used as general irrealis forms in all tenses (Mansfield 2014). This means that there is quite a bit of variation in terms of how the past irrealis is expressed both across the community and in the speech of individuals. For example, one speaker in an elicitation session offered the two options in (13) as alternatives meaning ‘he didn’t come’:

- (13) a. mere kurru-dha
 NEG 3SG.SBJ.GO(6).FUT:IRR-PST
 ‘He didn’t come.’

- b. mere wurri-dha
 NEG 3SG.SBJ.GO(6).PST:IRR-PST
 ‘He didn’t come.’ (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)

The same speaker spontaneously provided the two sequential lines in (14) in a narrative – in the first she uses the future irrealis form in a past context, and in the second she switches to the past irrealis:

- (14) a. murrinh mere
 CLF:LANG NEG
kuddu-ngarru-riyith-dha-ngime
 3PL.SBJ.SHOVE(29).FUT:IRR-IDU.EXCL.OBL-explain-PST-PC.F
 ‘They didn’t explain that story to us.’
 b. murrinh mere **puddi**-ngarra-riyith-dha
 CLF:LANG NEG 3PL.SBJ.SHOVE(29).PST:IRR-1PL.EXCL.OBL-explain-PST
 murrinh nhini-yu
 CLF:LANG this-DM
 ‘They didn’t explain that story to us.’ (MP-20120724-RN01)

Nonetheless, despite the variation in the irrealis paradigm, the overall generalization that negative polarity clauses require irrealis verb forms holds across all Murrinhpatha speakers. In the examples in the rest of this paper where the speaker is clearly using the future irrealis form in past irrealis contexts, I gloss it simply as IRR.

In affirmative constructions, the irrealis categories are used to encode counterfactuals, conditional constructions and deontic constructions as in the following:

- (15) ku beg me-art-dha-ka
 CLF:ANIM bag 1SG.SBJ.SNATCH(9).PST:IRR-get-PST-TOP
 ‘I should have brought my bag.’ (JB2004-09-12JB04.txt)
 (16) kuma-nhi-manpi mardinhpuy
 3PL.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-2SG.OBJ-help young.girl
 ‘The young girls should help you.’ (RN20090930-002:079)

An interesting consequence of the fact that the realis/irrealis distinction is collapsed in negative contexts is that we find ambiguity between standard negative constructions and negative deontic constructions (the negative counterparts of constructions such as (15) and (16)) (Nordlinger & Caudal 2012), since all are marked with the irrealis categories. This is shown in (17) and (18).

- (17) marda the-na-mut-dha palngun
NEG 2SG.SBJ.POKE(19).PST:IRR-3SG.M.OBL-give-PST woman
a. 'You didn't give him that woman.'
b. 'You shouldn't have given him that woman.' (JB2007-08-27JB04c.txt)
- (18) nukunu-ka mere kani-ngerren murrinh wiye
3SG.M-TOP NEG 3SG.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR-speak CLF:LANG bad
a. 'He doesn't say rude words.'
b. 'He shouldn't say rude words.' (JB2004 08 08JB03b2.txt)

This ambiguity results in a type of polarity reversal whereby on one meaning, e.g. (18a), the interpretation is that the event did not take place (i.e. rude words were not spoken); yet on the other meaning, (18b), the interpretation is that the event *did* take place (i.e. rude words *were* spoken, but the speaker feels they shouldn't have been).⁴

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Imperatives are negated in the same way as second person present/future tense declarative clauses, and therefore belong to Type 1 in the typology of [van der Auwera & Lejeune \(with Valentin Goussev\) \(2013\)](#). Examples are provided in (19) and (20).⁵

- (19) mere thu-ngi-bat!
NEG 2SG.SBJ.SLASH(23).FUT:IRR-1SG.OBJ-hit
'Don't hit me!' (MP-20100917-RN01)
- (20) manangka na-rithuk mi pana-yu!
NEG 2SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-pester CLF:VEG RCGN-DM
'Don't pester him for that food!' (RN20090606-002:077)

⁴As far as I am aware, this has not been discussed in the literature for other languages, although the same ambiguity is found in other northern Australian languages, such as Biniñ Kunwok, and can be particularly difficult when interpreting in legal contexts (Murray Garde, pers. comm.).

⁵Note that there is no distinction in the verbal paradigms between future realis and future irrealis for second person. However, given that realis tenses are not permitted in negative declarative clauses, I assume the same is true in negative imperatives, and so treat the verb in these examples as being inflected with the future irrealis.

A stronger deontic meaning, including prohibition, is expressed by adding the *-nukun* ‘LEST’ suffix (see also §4.6). The *-nukun* suffix can be attached either to the verb (21) or to the negative particle *mere* (22) and adds the implication that something bad or undesirable might happen if the order is not followed.

- (21) *mere* *thu-ngi-rerda-nukun!*
NEG 2SG.SBJ.SLASH(23).FUT:IRR-1SG.OBJ-blame-LEST
‘Don’t blame me!’ (Ford & McCormack 2011: 9)
- (22) *da pana-wangu-ka mere-nukun nunna-ngime*
CLF:PLACE RCGN-away-TOP NEG-LEST 2DU.SBJ.TRAVEL(7).FUT:IRR-PC.F
‘Don’t go near that place.’ (MP-20120724-RN01)

Example (22) was then repeated by the speaker as (23), showing the two potential positions for *-nukun*:

- (23) *mere nunna-nukun-ngime*
NEG 2DU.SBJ.TRAVEL(7).FUT:IRR-LEST-PC.F
‘Don’t go (there).’ (MP-20120724-RN01)

A special interjection *pirda* ‘don’t, stop it, leave it’ is frequently used in place of, or in conjunction with, negative imperative constructions, especially when admonishing children (24, 25).

- (24) *pirda!*
stop
‘Don’t (touch it), leave it alone!’ (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2015-07-338.1)
- (25) *pirda, mere numa-rdurt-nukun dedi-yu*
stop NEG 2DU.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-wake_up-LEST father-DM
‘Stop it! Don’t wake up your father.’ (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2015-07-69.1)

There are no dedicated hortative constructions in the language distinct from the imperative constructions illustrated above. The corpus also contains no examples of negative interrogative clauses.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

There are two different constructions involved in negating stative (non-verbal) predications. Assuming the categories of Payne (1997: 111ff), equational, proper

inclusion, and attributive constructions are negated similarly to verbal clauses, with the addition of the negative particle *mere* or *manangka*. Existential, locative and possessive non-verbal clauses use a unique construction involving negated noun classifier predicates (see §2.3.3).

2.3.1 Equative and proper inclusion clauses

These clause types are expressed with non-verbal predicates and are negated by placing a negative particle immediately before the predicate. *Mere* is used before pronouns (26, 27), and *manangka* is usually used with nouns (28, 29) (although for some speakers, *mere* is possible with nouns too as in (30)).

- (26) a. mi ngay-ka!
 CLF:VEG 1SG-TOP
 ‘That’s my food!’ (elicited, MP-20100917-RN01)
- b. mi **mere** ngay pana-yu!
 CLF:VEG NEG 1SG RCGN-DM
 ‘That’s not my food!’ (elicited, MP-20100917-RN01)
- (27) **mere** ngay
 NEG 1SG
 ‘It wasn’t me.’ (Ford & McCormack 2011: 3)
- (28) **manangka** ku were ngay
 NEG CLF:ANIM dog 1SG
 ‘That’s not my dog.’ (MP-20180718-RN01)
- (29) kardu **manangka** garbage bag ngay-yu!
 CLF:HUMAN NEG garbage bag 1SG-DM
 ‘I’m not a garbage bag!’ (RN-20180725-004:039)

Examples involving proper inclusion include (30–32):

- (30) kardu **mere** ku teacher pangu-yu
 CLF:HUMAN NEG CLF:ANIM teacher there-DM
 ‘That man’s not a teacher.’ (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)
- (31) **manangka** murrinh
 NEG CLF:LANG
 ‘That’s not a word.’ (RN-20180724-004:038)

- (32) telephone-gathu, nanthi **manangka** camera pana-yu!
telephone-HITHER CLF:THING NEG camera RCGN-DM
'Give me the telephone – that's not a camera!' (RN20120726-003:037)

2.3.2 Attributive clauses

Like equative clauses, these use the standard clausal negators before the attributive predicate, as in (33–35):

- (33) ku were **mere** ngala pangu-yu
CLF:ANIM dog NEG big there-DM
'That dog is not big.' (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)
- (34) **manangka** dhepdhep-wun-dhay
NEG food-3PL.OBJ-mouth
'They are never eating.' (MP-20180718-RN01)
- (35) kuguk dangatha **mere** patha-ngi
wait YET NEG good-1SG.OBJ
'Wait a minute, I don't feel well.' (JB20040808JB03b1.txt)

2.3.3 Negative classifier predicates

The negation of all other stative predications, namely existential, locative and possessive clauses, is expressed using a distinct construction type which involves negative classifier predicates. Negative classifier predicates have not been previously reported in the typological literature on either noun classifiers or negation (e.g. Aikhenvald 2003; Miestamo 2007; Eriksen 2011; Veselinova 2013b).⁶ While they have been mentioned in previous descriptive work on Murrinhpatha (e.g. Walsh 1976; Blythe 2009), and briefly in grammatical descriptions of other Daly languages such as Marrithiyel (Green 1989) and Ngan'gityemerri (Reid 2011), they have not been previously discussed in detail.

⁶Sentani (Trans New Guinea) has four classificatory negators used in existential constructions that appear similar to those described here in some respects: *olo* 'no person'; *an* 'no bird, animal'; *ban* 'no animate'; *u* 'no inanimate' (Hartzler 1994, and thanks to Ljuba Veselinova for alerting me to this data). However, Sentani does not appear to have a nominal classifier system from which these negators derive and it's not clear from the description whether they are predicates as we find in Murrinhpatha; they may be more like the negative indefinite pronouns 'nobody, nothing' in English, although it is not possible to determine on the data available to me.

Murrinhpatha has a set of 10 noun classifiers (Walsh 1993), which co-occur with nouns in an NP as in (36) and (37), or can occur alone as general nouns (38). These noun classifiers occur only once in an NP, and do not participate in agreement.

- (36) **kardu** **wakal** ngurdu-thuk-nu ngarra
 CLF:HUMAN child 1SG.SBJ.SHOVE(29).FUT-send-FUT LOC
 da-warda
 CLF:PLACE-TEMP
 ‘I’ll send the little boy home now.’ (RN-20070608-002:037)
- (37) **ku** **tumtum** mam-lerrkperrk
 CLF:ANIM egg 1SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).NFUT-destroy
 ‘I crushed the egg in my hands.’ (RN-20070608-002:039)
- (38) **kardu** mere kurru-lili
 CLF:HUMAN NEG 3SG.SBJ.GO(6).FUT:IRR -walk
 ‘That person can’t walk.’ (RN-20180724-004:038)

As is common in such systems, nouns may combine with different classifiers to reflect different semantic construals. The noun *menek* for example combines with the general inanimate (THING) classifier *nanthi* to describe the ironwood tree (*nanthi menek*), and with the SPEAR classifier *thamul* to refer to a particular type of spear made from the ironwood tree (*thamul menek*). The full set of nominal classifiers is in (41):

- | | | | |
|------|----------------|------------------|---------------------------------------|
| (39) | kardu | ‘human’ | e.g. kardu pule ‘old man’ |
| | ku | ‘animate’ | e.g. ku lawarnka ‘wallaby’ |
| | kura | ‘water’ | e.g. kura yelyel ‘rain’ |
| | thamul | ‘spear’ | e.g. thamul nguni ‘short light spear’ |
| | thu | ‘weapon’ | e.g. thu paku ‘large club’ |
| | thungku | ‘fire’ | e.g. thungku thay ‘firewood’ |
| | mi | ‘vegetable food’ | e.g. mi lawam ‘flour’ |
| | da | ‘place or time’ | e.g. da pemanhay ‘sandhill’ |
| | murrinh | ‘language’ | e.g. murrinh English ‘English’ |
| | nanthi | ‘residue, thing’ | e.g. nanthi thelput ‘house’ |

Each of these noun classifiers has a special negative form used in the expression of existential, locative and possessive predications. For most of the classes this is formed by prefixing *ma-* to the noun classifier, but for two classes (*da* and

murrinh) this involves combining the noun classifier with the regular negative particle *manangka*, see (40):

(40)	makardu	‘NEG:HUMAN’
	maku	‘NEG:ANIM’
	makura	‘NEG:WATER’
	mathamul	‘NEG:SPEAR’
	mathu	‘NEG:WEAPON’
	mathungku	‘NEG:FIRE’
	mami	‘NEG:VEG’
	manangka da	‘NEG:PLACE/TIME’
	manangka murrinh	‘NEG:LANG’
	mananthi	‘NEG:THING’

Some examples of these negative classifier predicates are given in (41–44). Although they are formally based on the nominal classifiers, these negative forms are in fact predicative, not referential, and cannot function as nominal classifiers themselves. In contexts where the presence of a particular noun is being negated, the regular noun classifier must also be used with the noun, as shown in (42) and (44).

- (41) marra-ka **makura**-warda
 now-TOP NEG:WATER-TEMP
 ‘Now there’s no rain.’ (Street 1987: 46)

- (42) ngay-ka **mananthi nanthi** marluk-yu
 1SG-TOP NEG:THING CLF:THING didgeridoo-DM
 ‘I don’t have a didgeridoo.’ (Street 1987: 45)

- (43) Q: ngarra John-yu?
 where John-DM
 ‘Where’s John?’

A: **makardu**
 NEG:HUMAN
 ‘(He’s) not here.’ (lit. ‘There is no person.’) (RN, overheard)

- (44) **ku** were-ka **maku** ngarra da-yu
 CLF:ANIM dog-TOP NEG:ANIM LOC CLF:PLACE-DM
 ‘The dog’s not at home.’ (elicited, RN-20180724-004:038)

Example (45) provides further evidence for the predicative status of these negative classifiers since it is not possible for them to appear in regular argument positions with a verbal predicate (45b), unlike noun classifiers (45c).

- (45) a. makardu-warda
NEG:HUMAN-TEMP
'No-one is there.' (MP-20180718-RN01)
- b. * makardu kani/kem
NEG:HUMAN 3SG.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR/3SG.SBJ.BE(4).EX
(both options offered to speaker, but rejected and replaced with (45a), MP-20180718-RN01)
- c. kardu kem
CLF:HUMAN 3SG.SBJ.BE(4).EX
'Someone is there.' (constructed, for illustration)

Negative classifier predicates form a distinct negation construction that is used to express negative locative, existential and possessive predications. In this respect Murrinhpatha is consistent with the claims of Veselinova (2013b: 112) who found that 66% of languages in her sample had a distinct construction used in negative existentials with no overlap with the expression of standard negation, and that the most common functions of this special negative construction are negation of existence, possession and location (ibid.: 118).

Examples of negated locative clauses are shown in (46–49). As is clear from these examples, the negative classifier predicates can be used for both specific and general reference.

- (46) Barbara da makardu-warda
Barbara CLF:PLACE NEG:HUMAN-TEMP
'Barbara's not here anymore.' (When arriving at the dongas and realising Barbara had gone back to Melbourne) (RN20090606-002:075)
- (47) kardu wakal makardu-ya ngarra truck-yu
CLF:HUMAN small NEG:HUMAN-DM LOC truck-DM
'The child is not in the truck.' (MP-20180718-RN01)
- (48) ngathan ngay-ka Daly River wardarra, kardu makardu-warda
brother 1SG-TOP Daly River already CLF:HUMAN NEG:HUMAN-TEMP
Darwin-kathu-yu
Darwin-HITHER-DM
'My brother is in Daly River already, he's not in Darwin anymore (heading this way).' (MP-20180718-RN01)

- (49) ku were-ka **maku** ngarra da-yu
 CLF:ANIM dog-TOP NEG:ANIM home-DM
 ‘The dog’s not at home.’ (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)

The PLACE/TIME classifier *da* (also the LANGUAGE classifier *murrinh*) doesn’t have a synthetic negative form, but is just negated with the regular NP negator *manangka*, as shown in (50):

- (50) manangka da dangatha
 NEG CLF:PLACE YET
 ‘It wasn’t there at the time.’ (JB20050705JB01.txt:107)

It can therefore be hard to determine whether these constructions are negative predicate constructions, such as those above, or simple NP negation as illustrated in §2.3.1 above. However, examples such as (51) suggest that *manangka da* functions predicatively like the other synthetic negative classifier predicates, since it co-occurs with the regular noun classifier when a particular place is being discussed:

- (51) ... ngarra da purtek ngala kanhi-ka **da** **manangka**
 REL CLF:PLACE ground big this-TOP CLF:PLACE NEG
 da dangatha
 CLF:PLACE yet
 ‘Before the world began...’ (lit. ‘When this entire place was not a place yet’) (Mansfield et al. 2019, 01-Christ-Comes-to-the-World)

Negative classifier predicates are also the standard way to encode negative existence. Examples include (52–55):

- (52) bere ku ngalmungku-ka **maku**
 SO CLF:ANIM red.kangaroo-TOP NEG:ANIM
 ‘Then the kangaroo was gone.’ (RN Kanamkek-Stanner.wav)
- (53) perrkenku **makardu**-warda
 two NEG:HUMAN-TEMP
 ‘(and) the two who have passed away now’ (MP-20120724-RN01)
- (54) **makardu**-warda
 NEG:HUMAN-TEMP
 ‘No-one is around.’ (MP-20180718-RN01)

- (55) Q: mi tham-rimut?
 CLF:VEG 2SG.SBJ.POKE(19).NFUT-leave.over
 ‘Did you leave some (food)?’
 A: awu mi ngam-rigerdek mami-warda
 no CLF:VEG 1SG.SBJ.POKE(19).NFUT-finish NEG:VEG-TEMP
 ‘No, I finished it all. There’s nothing left.’ (MP-20110810-RN01)

In (56), the existence of the feet is not actually being negated, but rather the awareness of them by the protagonists:

- (56) nanthi me **mananthi** mere pube-me-ngkardu-dha
 CLF:THING foot NEG:THING NEG 3DU.SBJ.SEE(13).PST:IRR-foot-see-PST
 ‘They didn’t see (Thiniminh’s) feet (sticking out from under the
 paperbark).’ (RN Kanamkek-Stanner.wav)

Negative actions expressed by non-verbal clauses are also a type of negated existential predicate (57–58):

- (57) **makura**-wun-thay
 NEG:WATER-3PL.OBJ-mouth
 ‘No drinking, they don’t drink.’ (lit. ‘Their mouths have no water.’) (RN,
 written on sign in the Wadeye community)
 (58) da four month kaka-yu **kura** **makura**
 CLF:TIME four month uncle-DM CLF:WATER NEG:WATER
 ‘It’s nearly four months that your uncle hasn’t been drinking.’ (lit. ‘It’s
 four months uncle has no water.’) (JB20090707JBvid04.wav)

However, when the nominal classifier is itself used as predicate (59), the regular nominal negator must be used instead, as it is with other nominal predicates (see (31) and (32) above, for example):

- (59) ngankungintha kardu **manangka kura** (***makura**)
 1DU.EXCL.NSIB CLF:HUMAN NEG drunk
 ‘The two of us weren’t drunk.’ (Mansfield et al. 2019,
 2015-01-29_AMN_NAATI)

Possessive clauses are also negated with negative classifier predicate constructions as illustrated in (60–65). The regular NP negator is not possible in these constructions as shown by (60b).

- (60) a. ngay-ka ku were **maku**
 1SG-TOP CLF:ANIM dog NEG:ANIM
 ‘I don’t have a dog.’ (MP-20180718-RN01)
- b. * ngay-ka manangka ku were
 1SG-TOP NEG CLF:ANIM dog
 Attempted: ‘I don’t have a dog.’ (MP-20180718-RN01)
- (61) ngay-ka **maku** ku tumtum
 1SG-TOP NEG:ANIM CLF:ANIM egg
 ‘I don’t have any eggs.’ (MP-20180718-RN01)
- (62) ngay-ka kardu wakal **makardu**
 1SG-TOP CLF:HUMAN child NEG:HUMAN
 ‘I don’t have any children.’ (MP-20180718-RN01)
- (63) kardu wakal dimu **mananthi**
 CLF:HUMAN child tooth NEG:THING
 ‘The baby’s got no teeth.’ (MP-20180718-RN01)
- (64) ngay-ka mi peka **mami**
 1SG-TOP CLF:VEG tobacco NEG:VEG
 ‘I don’t have any tobacco.’ (RN20130702-003:054)
- (65) nukunu-ka the kanthin-nan ngarra mi **mami**
 3SG.M-TOP ear 3SG.SBJ.HAVE(22).NFUT-2PL.OBJ REL CLF:VEG NEG:VEG
 narnam i nanthi **mananthi** narnam
 2PL.SBJ.BE(4).NFUT and CLF:THING NEG:THING 2PL.SBJ.BE(4).NFUT
 ‘and God knows that you need things (that you don’t have).’ (lit. ‘He
 knows about you that you are ‘food no food’ and you are ‘thing
 no-thing’) (RN, Mt6:24-34-009)

Affirmative possessive constructions of this type are very rare in the corpus, but when elicited are generally expressed with a verbal construction as in (66) and (67). Affirmative existential constructions also use a verbal construction, as in (68) repeated from above. We therefore have another type of structural asymmetry here where the affirmative construction involves a construction with a verbal predicate while the negative equivalent is expressed using a negative classifier predicate.

- (66) nigungu-ka dimu kanthin
 3SG.M-TOP tooth 3SG.SBJ.HAVE(22).NFUT
 ‘He (the baby) has teeth.’ (elicited, Bill Forshaw, pers. comm.)
- (67) nigungu-ka ngathan numi kanthin
 3SG.M-TOP brother one 3SG.SBJ.HAVE(22).NFUT
 ‘He has one brother.’ (elicited, Bill Forshaw, pers. comm.)
- (68) kardu kem
 CLF:HUMAN 3SG.SBJ.BE(4).EX
 ‘Someone is there.’ (constructed, for illustration)

The existence of negative classifier predicates in Murrinhpatha is consistent with Veselinova’s (2013b) claim that negative existence is a separate functional domain, distinct from both standard negation and affirmative existence. However, negative classifier predicates in Murrinhpatha further expand the typology of negative existentials by showing that negative existential strategies can develop from nominal classifiers, something which has not been reported before in typological literature (Eriksen 2011; Veselinova 2013b).

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Murrinhpatha doesn’t have non-finite verbal clauses; any non-main verbal clauses have the same structure as main clauses, with the same negation strategies. The negative particle can have scope over just the higher (69) or lower (70) clause; the scope of the negative particle is clearly indicated by irrealis marking on the verb (or lack thereof).

- (69) mere the ma-bath ngarra-kama
 NEG ear 1SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-have where-MAYBE
 parnam
 3PL.SBJ.BE(4).NFUT
 ‘I don’t know where they are.’ (RN20091006-002:121)
- (70) murrinh nukunu wurran-ngerren mere
 CLF:LANG 3SG.M 3SG.SBJ.GO(6).NFUT-speak NEG
 bi-ma-yepup
 1SG.SBJ.LISTEN(16).FUT:IRR-APPL-hear
 ‘He’s talking a language I can’t understand.’ (JB20040624JB01.txt)

Embedded non-verbal clauses are negated with negative classifier predicates (§2.3.3), as shown in (71):

- (71) bam-ngkardu nanthi me boot mananthi,
 1SG.SBJ.SEE(13).NFUT-see CLF:THING foot boot NEG:THING
 nungam-wiharart-yu
 3SG.SBJ.FOOT(7).NFUT-run-DM
 ‘I saw him running without boots.’ (lit. ‘I saw him without boots,
 running.’) (MP-20180718-RN01)

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Murrinhpatha has a lexicalized interjection *pirda* ‘don’t, stop it, leave it’ (exemplified in §2.2 and (72)), a number of lexical stems that encode a negated event as part of their inherent semantics (73–74) and an idiomatic construction meaning ‘don’t want, don’t like’ (76–78). The meanings of many of these negative lexicalizations are consistent with the cross-linguistic tendencies identified by Veselinova (2013a), especially the lexicalized construction meaning ‘don’t want, don’t like’, which her study found to be very commonly lexicalized across languages in her sample.

- (72) pirda!
 stop
 ‘Don’t (touch it), leave it alone!’ (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2015-07-338.1)

Other negative lexicalizations arise from the meanings of specific lexical stems, which encode a negated state or event as part of their semantics, such as *-ngkapi* ‘not recognize’ (73), and *-biye* ‘not realise’ (74). While these are semantically negative, they are not grammatically negative constructions as shown by the fact that they occur inflected with realis tense categories (73a, 74), and can themselves be negated (in which case they are inflected with irrealis mood) as in (73b).

- (73) a. wurdam-ngkapi
 3SG.SBJ.SHOVE:RR(30).NFUT-not.recognize
 ‘He didn’t recognize them.’ (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2015-07-21 210.1)
 b. mere-warda kurdi-nhi-ngkapi
 NEG-TEMP 3SG.SBJ.SHOVE:RR(30).FUT:IRR-2SG.OBJ-not.recognize
 ‘So he won’t treat you like a stranger.’ (lit. ‘So he won’t not recognize you.’) (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2015-07-21 168.1)

- (74) kanam-part=wurran nukunu-ka puy
3SG.SBJ.BE(4).NFUT-leave=3SG.SBJ.GO(6).NFUT 3SG.M-TOP keep.going
me-nu-the-biye=wurrini
3SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).PST:IPFV-RR-ear-not.realise=3SG.SBJ.GO(6).PST:IPFV
yileyile-yu
father-DM
'She left him and kept going, but her father didn't realise.' (Mansfield et al.
2019, CS1-017-A 07)

There is also an idiomatic construction for ‘don’t want’ that is different to the construction used to express the positive ‘want’. While the expression for ‘want’ is an idiom which combines the body part noun *marda* ‘belly’ with the verb meaning ‘to get/grab’ (75), the meaning ‘don’t want’ is formed with the negated clause ‘not be happy’ (76–77). This negated clause makes use of a regular negated construction and so this is not a negative lexicalization in the strict sense, however it is included here as it is lexicalized as the idiomatic way to encode ‘not want’.

- (75) mi-nu marda mangan-art=dim
CLF:VEG-DAT belly 3SG.SBJ.SNATCH(9).NFUT-get=3SG.SBJ.SIT(1).NFUT
'She wants some food.' (elicited, RN-20180724-004:038)
- (76) manangka le kani mi dhepdhep
NEG happy 3SG.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR CLF:VEG food
'She doesn't want any food.' (lit. 'She isn't be happy food-wise.' (elicited,
RN-20180724-004:038)
- (77) mere le ngurru, durdu
NEG happy 1SG.SBJ.GO(6).FUT:IRR breathless
ma-marda-nukun=ngurru
1SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-belly-LEST=1SG.SBJ.GO(6).FUT
'I don't want to go, I might get breathless.' (lit. 'I won't go happy')
(JB20040912JB04.txt)

This construction is also used for ‘don’t like’ (78):

- (78) mere le ngani-na
NEG happy 1SG.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR-3SG.M.OBL
'I don't like him.' (lit. 'I am not happy about him.')

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

2.6.1 *wurda* ‘no’ as a negative predicate

In some examples the negative word *wurda* ‘no, nothing’ (see §3.1) is used as a negative predicate in a verbless clause to indicate that something won’t, can’t or didn’t happen, see (79–80):

- (79) mi peka-ka **wurda-wa** ngarra prison-yu
CLF:VEG tobacco-TOP no-EMPH LOC prison-DM
‘Tobacco is banned in prison.’ (Mansfield et al. 2019,
2015-01-29_AMN_NAATI)
- (80) kardu kigay ngamere-nimin pumpanka-pek-neme
CLF:HUMAN youth few-OTHER 3DU.SBJ.GO(6).NFUT-destroy-PC.M
nanthi truck-yu, mu nhinhi-ka **wurda-wa**
CLF:THING truck-DM BUT 2SG-TOP no-EMPH
‘The other boys destroyed the truck, but you didn’t.’ (Ford & McCormack
2011: 1)

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

In appropriate contexts, negative replies to polar questions can be expressed with the negative classifier predicates discussed in §2.3.3. For example, a negative response to a question like ‘Did you catch any fish?’ might be *ma ku* ‘NEG:ANIM’; or in response to the question ‘Is anyone inside the house’ a negative reply might be *makardu* ‘NEG:HUMAN’. It is also possible to use one of two negative words: *wurda* and *awu*.

Wurda is the more general negative word, translating as ‘no, nothing’. It can be used as an interjection to either reinforce a negative statement (81), answer a question (82, 83), or as a negative tag question (84) (see also §2.6.1):

- (81) manangka lurruth kardu, **wurda**
NEG strong CLF:HUMAN no
‘He’s not a strong man, no.’ (Mansfield et al. 2019, 1981_CS1-03A_GM)
- (82) Q: ‘Do you light fires there?’

A: **wurda**, mere
 no NEG
 nga-rdudrurt=ngarni da
 1PL.SBJ.POKE(19).FUT:IRR-light.fires=1PL.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR CLF:PLACE
 pangu-yu
 there-DM
 ‘No, we don’t light fires there.’ (MP-20091008-RN01)

(83) Q: ‘Will you be taking me home?’

A: ngay-ka **wurda-wa**
 1SG-TOP no-EMPH
 ‘Not me (someone else will).’ (MP-20100920-RN01)

(84) kura kanhi nukunu wurran=dim mu
 CLF:WATER here 3SG.M 3SG.SBJ.GO(6).NFUT=3SG.SBJ.SIT(1).NFUT OR
wurda?
 no
 ‘Does he go through this water here or not? (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2012-06-20_landing_29)

Awu is an interjection and is always initial in the clause. While it is a negative interjection, it has a different pragmatic force to *wurda* and is often used in situations where the utterance is considered to be counter to expectations in some way.

It can be used to signal disagreement with a prior suggestion or statement, as in (85):

(85) A: kura ti kanhi-ka pa-winhipak-warda
 CLF:WATER tea here-TOP 1INCL.SBJ.POKE(19).FUT-spill-TEMP
 ‘Let’s tip out this tea.’
 B: **awu**, kura pi-gurdugurduk-ngime
 no CLF:WATER 1INCL.SBJ.SIT(1).FUT-drink-PC.F
 ‘No, let’s drink it.’ (Mansfield et al. 2019, 20110828_JB_video)

In some examples it is used to mark contrast with a preceding statement, rather than negation. In the example in (86), two characters in a story are talking about where they want to go; *awu* is used to contrast with the preceding utterance, rather than to negate or disagree with its content.

- (86) nukunu-ka mem-nu Kanamkek-yu
3SG.M-TOP 3SG.SBJ.HANDS:RR(10).NFUT-RR Kanamkek-DM
'Kanamkek said to himself,
"ngay-ka nga-wintigat-nu kanhi-ngu"
1SG-TOP 1SG.SBJ.POKE(19).FUT-descend-FUT here-WAY
'I'll go down (to the water) this way."
Thinaminh-ka mam
Thinaminh-TOP 3SG.SBJ.SAY/DO(34).NFUT
Thinaminh said,
"awu ngay-ka ngi-mardawith-nu kanhi-ngu, palyirr"
no 1SG-TOP 1SG.SBJ.SIT(1).FUT-ascend-FUT here-WAY hill
"No, I'm going up this way, to the hills." (Mansfield et al. 2019,
2000-11-10 LKLM)

Awu is also used in corrections, including self-corrections (87):

- (87) piguna-ka pumpanka [...] awu! mi bamngutut
 3DU.SIB-TOP 3DU.SBJ.GO(6).NFUT no CLF:VEG boab
 kuba-birr=kuru
 3PL.SBJ.BASH(14).FUT:IRR-plant=3PL.SBJ.GO(6).FUT:IRR
 ‘The sisters were going [...] no! they all went to plant boab fruit.
 (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2000-11-319.1)

In some examples *awu* is used in response to a content question. In these examples it may be used to deny the implicature generated by the question. In (88), for example, B's use of *awu* denies the implicature that there is anything particularly wrong.

- (88) A: thangkudha yawu?
 what.from HEY
 ‘What’s wrong?’
 B: awu, mi peka lurruth ngala-wa
 no CLF:VEG tobacco strong big-EMPH
 ‘Awu, the tobacco is really strong.’ (Mansfield et al. 2019,
 20171403 AN)

The two negative words can combine to mean ‘definitely not’. In this case, they are always in the order *awu wurd* (89):

- (89) “nhinhi-ka kale ngay?” mam
 2SG-TOP mother 1SG 3SG.SBJ.SAY/DO(34).NFUT
 “Are you my mother?” he said.
 “awu wurda!” mam ku ngurlmirl-yu
 no no 3SG.SBJ.SAY/DO(34).NFUT CLF:ANIM fish-DM
 “No, definitely not!” said the fish.
 “ngay-ka ku ngurlmirl-wa!”
 1SG-TOP CLF:ANIM fish-EMPH
 “I’m a fish!” (Are you my mother? children’s book)

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

There is a set of indefinite/interrogative pronouns including *nangkarl* ‘someone, who’ (90), *ngarra* ‘sometime/somewhere, when/where’ (91) and *thangku* ‘something, what’ (92). When functioning as indefinites these are often found co-occurring with the epistemic suffix *-kama* ‘MAYBE’ as in (90).

- (90) **nangkarl-kama** pan-nga-bat
 who-MAYBE 3SG.SBJ.SLASH(23).NFUT-1SG.OBL-hit
 ‘Someone called me (on the phone).’ (MP-20091008-RN01)
- (91) da pana **ngarra** purru-lili
 CLF:PLACE RCGN where 1INCL.SBJ.GO(6).NFUT-walk
 ‘We just go walk somewhere.’ (MP-20091008-RN01)
- (92) ku balli-ya ngarde-wat-ngime-ya ku
 CLF:ANIM mud.crab-DM 1DU.EXCL.SBJ.BE(4).PST:IPFV-go-PC.F-DM CLF:ANIM
thangku-wu pana ngurlmirl
 what-EMPH RCGN fish
 ‘We would go for crabs, and, something else, fish.’ (MP-20120724-RN01)

These indefinite pronouns can be negated with the clausal negator *mere*, as with all other pronouns (93):

- (93) **mere** **thangku** deyida
 NEG what again
 ‘nothing else’ (20110730_JB_video_GYHM100_04)

Indefinite pronouns combine with standard clausal negation in a verbal clause to form their negated versions, thus Murrinhpatha belongs to Kahrel's (1996) Type 1 in this respect. Note that while standard clausal negation is used, in these constructions the indefinite pronoun always immediately follows the negative particle, which is not the usual position for nominal arguments in standard negation. Nonetheless, the fact that the verb must appear in the irrealis mood, as with regular clausal negation, shows that the negative marker *mere* has scope over the whole clause, not just the indefinite pronoun (94–96).

- (94) **mere thangu**
 NEG what
 ku-ngi-mathak=kani
 3SG.SBJ.SLASH(23).FUT:IRR-1SG.OBJ-have.things=3SG.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR
 'I've got nothing (in my pockets).' (MP-20091001-RN01)
- (95) **mere nangkarl-warda kani**
 NEG who-TEMP 3SG.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR
 'No-one is living there.' (MP-20180718-RN01)
- (96) **mere nangkarl be-rdurt-dha**
 NEG who 1SG.SBJ.BASH(14).PST:IRR-find-PST
 'I didn't see (find) anyone (there).' (MP-20180718-RN01)

Mere ngarra appears to have been extended into other negative functions as well, including meanings such as 'not ever, never, can't' (97–99):

- (97) da kura **mere ngarra** karni-yel da
 CLF:TIME CLF:WATER NEG what 3SG.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR-rain CLF:TIME
 mirrangan-wa kanhi-yu
 dry.season-EMPH here-DM
 'It never rains in the dry season (which is now).' (MP-20180718-RN01)
- (98) mu **manangka ngarra** fix kama-na
 BUT NEG what fix 3SG.SBJ.DO(34).FUT:IRR-3SG.M.OBL
 'but (the doctor) can't fix him' (RN, overheard)
- (99) **mere ngarra** pani-la
 NEG what 1INCL.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR-climb
 'We can't climb (that hill).' (20110825_JB_video_GYHM100_01)

In some examples, *mere ngarra* seems to express lack of volition, rather than meaning ‘never, can’t’. In (100) and (101) the use of *mere ngarra* indicates a choice on the part of the speaker not to undertake the actions described.

- (100) **mere ngarra** me-watha-dha, le wiye
 NEG what 1SG.HANDS(8).PST:IRR-make-PST tired
 I didn’t make (any tea), (I’m) tired. (MP-20100920-RN01)

- (101) **mere ngarra** ngurru
 NEG what 1SG.SBJ.GO(6).FUT:IRR
 ‘I’m not going.’ (RN-20180725-004:038)

Example (102) shows nicely the interaction of the different negative construction types. Speaker A uses an indefinite pronoun to ask a question. In their response, speaker B answers first with the negative word *wurda* (§3.1), then a negative existential construction using a negative classifier predicate (§2.3.3), and then reiterates with the use of a negative indefinite construction in which the indefinite pronoun *nangkarl* is used as an argument NP in the negated verbal clause.

- (102) Q: kardu nangkarl-ngadha bam-nhi-ngkardu?
 CLF:HUMAN who-STILL 3SG.SBJ.SEE(13).NFUT-2SG.OBJ-see
 ‘Did someone come to see you?’
 A: **wurda, makardu. mere nangkarl**
 no NEG:HUMAN NEG who
 be-ngi-ngkardu-dha
 3SG.SBJ.SEE(13).PST:IRR-1SG.OBJ-see-PST
 ‘No, no-one. No-one came to see me.’ (MP-20180718-RN01)

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

In general, the meaning of absence at the lexical level – the equivalent to English ‘without’ – is expressed as a non-verbal subordinate clause with a negative classifier predicate as discussed in §2.3.3, §2.4 and illustrated in (103–104). The use of negative classifier predicates in this way is consistent with Veselinova’s (2013b) finding that negative existential constructions commonly also have privative functions cross-linguistically.

- (103) kardu nungam-pinharart nanthi me boot **mananthi**
 CLF:HUMAN 3SG.SBJ.FOOT(7).NFUT-run CLF:THING foot boot NEG:THING
 ‘Someone’s running without shoes.’ (lit. ‘A person is running, (s/he is) without shoes’) (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)
- (104) bam-ngkardu nanthi me boot **mananthi**,
 1SG.SBJ.SEE(13).NFUT-see CLF:THING foot boot NEG:THING
 nungam-wiharart-yu
 3SG.SBJ.FOOT(7).NFUT-run-DM
 ‘I saw him running without boots.’ (lit. ‘I saw him, (he was) without boots, he was running.’) (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)

The NP negator *manangka* is also possible in this function, for some speakers (105–106). Note that in these constructions it never combines with a nominal classifier relating to the negated element:

- (105) **manangka** me boot parde-wilili-dha-neme
 NEG foot boot 3DU.SBJ.BE(4).PST:IPFV-WALK-PST-PC.M
 ‘They walked without any shoes.’ (Mansfield et al. 2019, 20152-07-13_CW_verb-suffixes)
- (106) kardu **manangka** pemarr-we
 CLF:HUMAN NEG hair-head
 ‘person without head hair’ (Walsh 1976: 182)

There is one idiomatic construction in which an associative suffix *-ma* is suffixed to the negative classifier predicate *makardu* to indicate absence of a wife or girlfriend (107–108). This construction is not possible without the *-ma* as shown in (109).

- (107) kardu palngun **makardu-ma**
 CLF:HUMAN woman NEG:HUMAN-ASSOC
 ‘single man’ (lit. ‘person without a woman’) (MP-20180718-RN01)
- (108) palngun **makardu-ngi-ma**
 woman NEG:HUMAN-1SG.OBJ-ASSOC
 ‘I’ve got no girlfriend/wife.’ (MP-20180718-RN01)
- (109) * palngun makardu
 woman NEG:HUMAN
 ‘He’s got no girlfriend/wife.’ (MP-20180718-RN01)

In other contexts the nominal suffix *-ma* functions as a comitative (Walsh 1976: 183) or associative, as in (110) and (111):

- (110) kardu thamul-ma
 CLF:HUMAN spear-ASSOC
 ‘a person habitually associated with spears’ (Walsh 1976: 187)
- (111) batbat-ngi-ma
 right.hand-1SG.OBJ-ASSOC
 ‘I’m right-handed.’ (Mansfield 2019: 166)

The fact that the construction in (107) is idiomatic is shown by fact that the comitative/associative *-ma* is not possible in other contexts, such as when talking about a woman without a husband. In this case the nominal classifier predicate is not possible (cf. (113) with (107) above), and the regular NP negator must be used instead, as in (112).

- (112) kardu manangka nugalin
 CLF:HUMAN NEG husband
 ‘single woman’ (lit. ‘person without a husband’) (elicited,
 MP-20180718-RN01)
- (113) * kardu nugalin makardu-ma
 CLF:HUMAN husband NEG:HUMAN-ASSOC
 Attempted: ‘single woman’ (checked in elicitation, rejected and
 replaced with (112), MP-20180718-RN01)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

The negative particle generally has scope over the entire clause, reflected in the presence of irrealis mood marking on the verb (§2.1). The serialised classifier stem which marks imperfective aspect (Nordlinger & Caudal 2012) must also appear in the irrealis form in negative constructions, showing it to be within the scope of the negative operator (114).

- (114) a. **dam-rilil=dim**
 3SG.SBJ.POKE(19).NFUT-write=3SG.SBJ.SIT(1).NFUT
 ‘He’s writing it down.’ (MP-20100917-RN01)

- b. mere **ka-rilil=ki**
 NEG 3SG.SBJ.POKE(19).FUT:IRR-write=3SG.SBJ.SIT(1).FUT:IRR
 ‘He’s not writing it down.’ (MP-20100917-RN01)

As discussed in §2.4, in complex sentences the negative particle can have scope over just the higher or lower clause, with the relevant verb inflecting for irrealis mood, as shown in (115–116) (repeated from above).

- (115) **mere the ma-bath** ngarra-kama
 NEG ear 1SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-have where-MAYBE
 parnam
 3PL.SBJ.BE(3).NFUT
 ‘I don’t know where they are.’ (RN20091006-002:121)
- (116) murrinh nukunu wurran-ngerren **mere**
 CLF:LANG 3SG.M 3SG.SBJ.GO(6).NFUT-speak NEG
bi-ma-yepup
 1SG.SBJ.LISTEN(16).FUT:IRR-APPL-hear
 ‘He’s talking a language I can’t understand.’ (JB20040624JB01.txt)

4.2 Negative polarity

As far as I have been able to determine, there are no negative polarity items in Murrinhpatha. See §3.2 for a discussion of indefinite pronouns and their interaction with negative particles.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Case marking on NPs in Murrinhpatha is very limited and mostly not obligatory (see Nordlinger 2015; Mansfield 2019). There is no special marking of NPs within the scope of negation, although the language does have special negative classifier predicates which are used in existential, locative and possessive constructions as discussed in §2.3.3.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The negative particle *mere* can be inflected with the ‘LEST’ suffix *-nukun* to emphasise the undesirability of the negated action. This construction is common in imperatives (see §2.2), but can be found in declarative clauses too, as in (117–118).

- (117) nekineme-ka mere-nukun
 1PC.M.INCL-TOP NEG-LEST
 pa-yetmut-neme=purru
 1INCL.SBJ.POKE(19).FUT:IRR-refuse-PC.M=1INCL.SBJ.GO(6).FUT:IRR
 ‘We won’t refuse him.’ (JB20100827_JB_video_02_modified.wav)
- (118) da pana-wangu-ka mere-nukun nunna-ngime
 CLF:PLACE RCGN-AWAY-TOP NEG-LEST 2DU.SBJ.TRAVEL(7).FUT:IRR-PC.F
 ‘Don’t you ever go near that place (warning children).’
 (MP-20120724-RN01)

Reinforced negation is also achieved through combining the two negative words *awu wurda* to mean ‘definitely not’, as discussed in §3.1, and shown in (119) (repeated from above):

- (119) “nhinhi-ka kale ngay?” mam
 2SG-TOP mother 1SG 3SG.SBJ.SAY/DO(34).NFUT
 “Are you my mother?” he said.
- “awu wurda!” mam ku ngurlmirl-yu
 no no 3SG.SBJ.SAY/DO(34).NFUT CLF:ANIM fish-DM
 “No, definitely not!” said the fish.
- “ngay-ka ku ngurlmirl-wa!”
 1SG-TOP CLF:ANIM fish-EMPH
 “I’m a fish!” (Are you my mother? children’s book)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

There are no special negative coordinators in the current Murrinhpatha corpus, and no examples where a negator has scope over a coordinated construction. §2.4 provides examples showing the independent negation of the higher and lower clauses in complex sentences. In the following examples we see that *wurda* ‘no, nothing’ can be used to negate an ellipsed negative declarative in contrastive ‘X but didn’t’ clauses (120), or those with contrastive subjects (121).

- (120) me-watha-dha-warda mu wurda
 1SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).PST:IRR-make-PST-TEMP BUT no
 ‘I tried to make (some tea) but didn’t. (MP-20100920-RN01)

- (121) kardu kigay ngamere-nimin pumpanka-pek-neme
CLF:HUMAN youth few-OTHER 3DU.SBJ.GO(6).NFUT-destroy-PC.M
nanthi truck-yu, mu nhinhi-ka **wurda-wa**
CLF:THING truck-DM BUT 2SG-TOP no-EMPH
'The other boys destroyed the truck, but you didn't.' (Ford & McCormack 2011: 1)

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

Murrinhpatha also has an apprehensive, or 'lest' construction, which is encoded with the suffix *-nukun* [italics] 'lest' added to a verb inflected with the future irrealis. These constructions are not negative constructions, *per se*, but are related to the domain of negation in that they express undesirable consequences that the speaker believes should be avoided. These constructions are different to those discussed in §2.1-§2.3 since they don't include a negative particle of any kind. Some examples are given in (122–124):

- (122) **pubu-wath-nukun**
1INCL.SBJ.17.FUT:IRR-fall-LEST
'We might fall down.' (20110825_JB_video_GHYM100_01)
- (123) **thirra-pe-warda**
2SG.SBJ.STAND(3).FUT-care.for-TEMP
ma-nhi-ngkangath-nukun
3SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-2SG.OBJ-hide-LEST
'Look after her, she might get lost.' (MP-20100916-RN01)
- (124) **ke-nhi-bath-nukun!**
3SG.SBJ.POKE:RR(21).FUT:IRR-2SG.OBJ-cook-LEST
'It might burn you!' (RN20070608-002:035)

It is possible to add *-nukun* to an NP to create a non-verbal clause expressing an undesirable consequence. The NP+*nukun* encodes the fact that something bad might happen related to the NP. The hearer draws on pragmatics and context to interpret the action that is being negated or cautioned against. These constructions may be imperative (125) or declarative (126–128):

- (125) **mange-nukun!**
hand-LEST
'Look out for your hand (in the car door)! (e.g. it might get jammed)'
(RN, overheard)

- (126) jection-nukun!
 injection-LEST
 ‘[I’m not coming because] (she) might (give me) an injection!’ (RN, overheard)
- (127) ku tharnkin-nukun
 CLF:ANIM king_brown_snake-LEST
 A King Brown might (come out after us ... and we’ll have to get away from it). (JB20040808JB03b1.txt)
- (128) ngay-ka wakay mayern-nukun-warda Nungalinya
 1SG-TOP finish track-LEST-TEMP place_name
 ‘My (money) might all get used up on the trip to Nungalinya.’
 (JB20090707JBvid04.wav)

5 Conclusion

The discussion above covers the key aspects of negation and negative construction types in Murrinhpatha, based on our current knowledge about the language. The set of negative constructions and their functions are summarized in Table 3.

Murrinhpatha contributes to our typologies of negation in a number of ways, most notably in the existence of negative classifier predicates, which have not previously been described for any language in the typological literature (§2.3.3).

HC: @LSP: the table occurs at a wrong place

Acknowledgements

My fieldwork on Murrinhpatha has been supported by a number of Australian Research Council grants (DP110100961, DP0984419) and by the ARC Centre of Excellence for the Dynamics of Language (CE140100041). I am extraordinarily grateful to all members of the Wadeye community who have welcomed and worked with me over many years, but especially Carmelita Perdjert without whom my work with Murrinhpatha would have been extremely limited and nowhere near as enjoyable. I would also like to thank John Mansfield for being my sounding board on all things Murrinhpatha, Bill Forshaw for help with data questions, two anonymous reviewers, and Matti Miestamo and Ljuba Veselinova for inviting me to contribute to the Negation workshop at the SWL conference in 2018 from which this paper developed, and for many helpful suggestions on earlier drafts.

Table 3: Murrinhpatha negative constructions and their functions

Negation strategy	Function
<i>mere</i> : negative particle	Standard negation, verbs marked with irrealis mood §2.1 Negative imperatives §2.2 Negating pronouns in equative and proper inclusion verbless clauses §2.3.1 Negative attributive clauses §2.3.2
<i>manangka</i> : negative particle	Standard negation, verbs marked with irrealis mood §2.1 Negative imperatives §2.2 Negating nouns in equative and proper inclusion verbless clauses §2.3.1 Negative attributive clauses §2.3.2
<i>mere</i> ‘NEG’ + <i>-nukun</i> ‘LEST’ suffix	Emphatic negation §4.4 prohibition §2.2
<i>pirda</i> : interjection negative classifier predicates <i>mere/manangka</i> ‘NEG’ + <i>ngarra</i> ‘what’ <i>-nukun</i> ‘LEST’	‘Don’t!, Stop it!’ §2.2 Negating existential, locative, possessive clauses §2.3.3 ‘never, can’t’ §3.2 Encoding warnings, undesirable events, admonitives §4.6
<i>wurda</i> : negative word, ‘no’	Negative replies §3.1 Negative predicate in verbless clauses §2.6.1
<i>awu</i> : negative word, ‘no’	Negative replies, negation of expectation §3.1

Abbreviations

1	first person	M	masculine
2	second person	NEG	negative
3	third person	NFUT	non-future
ANIM	animate	NSIB	non-siblings
APPL	applicative	O	object
ASSOC	associative	OBL	oblique
CLF	classifier	PC	paucal
DAT	dative	PL	plural
DM	discourse	PST	past
DU	dual	RCGN	recognitional
EMPH	emphatic		demonstrative
EXCL	exclusive	REL	relativizer
EX	existential	RR	reflexive/reciprocal
F	feminine	S	subject
FUT	future	SG	singular
INCL	inclusive	SIB	siblings
IPFV	imperfective	TEMP	temporal
IRR	irrealis	TOP	topic
LANG	language	VEG	vegetable
LOC	locative		

Classifier stems are glossed with an indicative semantic gloss where possible (provided in small caps) and a number which corresponds to the traditional description of these elements (e.g. Blythe et al. 2007). Examples are provided in morphemic transcription.

References

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Negation in Ngarinyin

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Ngarinyin is an Australian Aboriginal language of the Worrorrnan family, belonging to the Western Kimberley region. Its morphological expression of negation is very regular and demonstrates the close relation between negation and modality. Following Miestamo's (2025) typological questionnaire, the chapter sketches the basic properties of negation in Ngarinyin within and across clause boundaries and proposes several diachronic and semantic connections between negation markers and (other) particles, interjections and lexical expressions.

Keywords: Aboriginal languages (Ngarinyin); Worrorrnan; negation; modality

1 Ngarinyin

Ngarinyin (ISO: **ung**, Glottocode: **ngar1284**) is a Worrorrnan (non-Pama-Nyungan) language of the Kimberley region in North-Western Australia (Rumsey 1982, Spronck 2015).¹ Although once spoken in a dialect chain spanning most of the central Kimberley region, the language is currently critically endangered. However, efforts from Ngarinyin elders to record stories and conversations with missionaries and linguists since the 1930s have resulted in a rich archive of spoken narratives, personal histories and spontaneous speech. In collaboration with remaining speakers, younger generations are applying these materials in language teaching programmes in schools and in individual training.

Ngarinyin is mostly agglutinative, non-configurational and head-marking. The language is syntactically nominative-accusative, but does not distinguish morphological nominal or accusative case. It has a genitive and a dative case, alongside several locational cases, but most nominal morphology is optionally marked

¹In earlier work I referred to the language as 'Ungarinyin', following the preference of language consultants involved and in order to distinguish the language name from the ethnonym for the Ngarinyin people. Here, I will use the label 'Ngarinyin' for both, in accordance with common practice in the literature and by the contemporary Ngarinyin community.

and frequently left out in discourse. Nouns agree with one of five noun classes, masculine, feminine, collective/plural and two neuter classes, roughly corresponding to locational and temporal concepts.

Verbal constructions either consist of a single verb root or constitute ‘coverb’ (also ‘preverb’) constructions, as also found elsewhere in the Kimberley (Schultze-Berndt 2000, McGregor 2002, Bowern 2010). In a coverb construction, a minimally inflecting preverbal lexeme is combined with a fully inflected auxiliary verb (chosen among a -mostly- closed set of about 15 verb roots), cf. example (1a) below. Inflecting verbs carry pronominal object/subject prefixes and allow several other verbal prefixes (irrealis, future, imperative, ‘identifiable’ subject)², but are mostly suffixing (reflexive, tense, optative, dual/paucal, continuative aspect, direction, indirect object/oblique). Morpheme boundaries are often blurred by the assimilation of consonants and vowels, following strengthening and lenition rules as proposed by Rumsey (1982) indicated in the morphemic transcriptions below by subscript numbers 1 and 2 (for details, see Rumsey 1982: 17–24). Note that none of the subscript numbers appearing in the glosses of examples in this chapter have semantic significance.

Ngarinyin narratives and conversation predominantly consist of simple clauses and (in)subordinate clauses formed though one single general subordinating strategy (see §2.4), as has been reported for other Australian languages (cf. Hale 1976, Nordlinger 2006). Further complex clause marking is limited to a construction used in reported speech, thought and intention, cf. examples (18) and (19) (Spronck 2015) and some conditional clauses headed by the conjunction *wana* ‘if’. The anaphoric ‘temporal neuter’ pronoun *di* ‘then’ can head clauses with an approximate conjunctive function, but Ngarinyin does not have explicitly marked coordinating constructions.

The language has been described in a dictionary that remains one of the largest of any Australian language (Coate & Elkin 1974) and two grammars, an early and mostly superseded description in Coate & Oates (1970) and a detailed description in Rumsey (1982). Spronck (2015) contains a more recent sketch grammar and observations about complex clauses, modality and discourse.

Examples cited in this chapter derive from four sources: original field recordings by the author (indicated with a label consisting of numbers and letters plus a time stamp). In examples cited from this source, the label indicates the time and type of the recoding and the name of the language consultant (in case of, e.g. example (1a), the label 100903-25NGUN, 2:25-2:26 indicates that the recoding was made on 3 September 2010, that it was the 25th file on that day, that the

²For a description of the identifiable subject marker, glossed here as DEF ‘definite subject’, see Spronck (2020).

speaker was ‘NG’, Pansy Nulgit, and that the recording consisted of Unelicited Narrative. The sentence is spoken between 2’25” and 2’26” in the file.) A fuller description of the labels and a list of recordings is given in [Spronck \(2015\)](#) and the corpus is archived at the Endangered Language Archive (ELAR). A second source of examples are transcripts made by missionary linguist Howard Coate between the 1930s and 1970s ([Coate 1930–1971](#)). These examples are followed by a label consisting of the letter C and a document number, a page number and a line number in the corpus. The full corpus of transcripts and matched sound recordings will be deposited at the archive of the Australian Institute of Aboriginal and Torres Strait Islander Studies in Canberra, once it will be completed. A third source of examples are published sources, which are referenced in the customary way. Glosses and translations of these examples may have been modified, as indicated for the relevant examples. In the case of examples cited from the dictionary [Coate & Elkin \(1974\)](#), the relevant dictionary entry is provided as well (cf. 5). Finally, in cases where clear minimal pairs are lacking in the corpus, some examples have been constructed by the author (marked as ‘*constructed*’), as in (1b).

The discussion of negation in the following sections closely follows the questionnaire underlying the present volume, [Miestamo \(2025\)](#).

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Ngarinyin standard negation, ‘i.e. the basic way(s) a language has for negating declarative verbal main clauses’ ([Miestamo 2005](#): 1) is constructed by the preverbal particle *wa* ‘not’ and irrealis inflection on the verb, as in (1a). The positive version of this sentence, without negation particle and irrealis form is given in (1b).

- (1) a. Wa kuninba nginkingi.
 wa kunin-ba ngin-wa₂-y₂i-nyi
 NEG cover.up-ITER 1SG-IRR-be-IRR.PST
 ‘I did not cover up [my belongings].’ (100903-25NGUN, 2:25-2:26)
- b. Kuninba nginyi.
 kunin-ba ngin-y₂i-nyi
 cover.up-ITER 1SG-be-PST
 ‘I covered up.’ (*constructed*)

According to the typology in Miestamo (2013), the opposition between (1a) and (1b), in which the irrealis marker doubles as a negative expression classifies Ngarinyin as a language displaying asymmetric negation. Note that in (1a) the negation particle *wa* appears before the coverb *kunin* ‘cover up’, demonstrating that the coverb and the following inflecting verb form a single verb phrase. Apart from some clitics and, occasionally, modifiers, no non-verbal elements appear between the negation particle and the inflecting verb. As the minimal pair in (1a) and (1b) shows, in addition to the irrealis prefix, the negative/irrealis form can also be distinguished from the positive/realis form through some tense inflections, in this instance a dedicated irrealis/realis past tense. This only occurs in the verbal paradigms of a limited amount of verb roots.

The common standard negation construction in (1a) has two less frequent variants. The first type is shown in (2), where the negation particle *wa* takes the minimally different form *way*.

- (2) Karrabirri mindi way irrkungurli.
 karrabirri mindi way irr-w₂a₂-ngurli- $\emptyset$
 boomerang N_m-ANA NEG 3M.SG.OBJ:3PL.SBJ-IRR-give-PRS
 ‘They do not give them (any) boomerangs.’ (111015-02PNNKDDJEUD,
 14:42-14:45)

Whether *way* is an older form of *wa*, an innovation or (dialectal) variation is unknown, but the form does not seem to imply any semantic contrast.³

Occasionally, the particle is left out entirely and negation is marked by the irrealis alone, as in (3) (also see 19).⁴

- (3) Darak anya nyingan darak nyinkayirri.
 darak a₁-a-nya nyingan darak nyin-w₂a₂-a-yirri
 go.in 3M.SG-go-DIST 2SG go.in 2SG-IRR-go-CONT
 ‘He enters, but you don’t.’ (lit. ‘He enters, you are not entering.’) (Coate
 1966: 118, line 285)

Rather than acting as the primary marker of negation, *wa(y)* therefore mostly seems to serve to disambiguate negated verbs. In cases where such disambiguation is unnecessary, the irrealis suffices as negation marking: note that a likely reason why the negative marking is sufficiently implied in (3) is because of the

³In (2), the variant may also be phonologically conditioned, although *way* is not restricted to assimilation contexts.

⁴For an example of the modal irrealis function of this marker, see (5) below and the brief discussion in §4.6.5.

contrast set up with the preceding positive clause. It should be noted, however, that the disambiguating function of the negation particle *wa* is often necessary, since the irrealis does express modal functions suggested by the name of the category. This can be illustrated by the insubordinated verbal construction in (4) in which the irrealis signals a hypothetical event.

- (4) Anjaku rimij nginkenungarri ngin maji buluk ba
 anja-ku rimij ngin-w₂a₂-y₂i-ø-nu-ngarri ngin maji buluk ba₂-a
 what-DAT steal 1SG.SBJ-IRR-be-PRS-2SG.IO-SUB 1SG MUST look.around IMP-go
 wura jadarn.
 wura jadarn
 sideways properly
 ‘Why would I steal from you? You should look around properly.’ (100903-24NGUN, 0:13-0:17)

The irrealis may also express epistemic modality, either by itself (as in 5a) or in combination with a range of modal particles that, like the negation particle, appear in preverbal position. The minimal pair in (5), adapted from the Ngarinyin dictionary Coate & Elkin (1974) shows the semantic contrast of the epistemic interpretation (without particle *wa*) and the negative interpretation (with particle *wa*) particularly clearly.

- (5) a. Ngoy angkuma.
 ngoy a-w₂a₂-ma-ø
 breathe 3M.SG-IRR-do-PRS
 ‘He might breathe.’
 b. Wa ngoy angkuma.
 wa ngoy a-w₂a₂-ma-ø
 NEG breathe 3M.SG-IRR-do-PRS
 ‘He won’t breathe.’ (Coate & Elkin 1974: 427, entry: *ŋoj*)

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

The verbal marking in non-declarative negative clauses is the same as in declarative ones, i.e. all involve irrealis inflection. The expression of the preverbal particle is affected by illocution, however: in interrogative clauses, the question clitic *=ka* attaches to the negative particle *wa*, as in (18).

- (6) Waka laybiru kurrkengi?
 wa=ka laybiru kurrk-yi-ngi
 NEG=Q know 2PL.IRR-be-PST:IRR
 ‘Did you not know?’ (Coate & Elkin 1974: 470, entry: *waga*)

In interrogative clauses, the ambiguity between a negative and a modal interpretation of the irrealis prefix holds to a similar degree as in declarative clauses, which explains the prevalent, although not absolute, occurrence of the preverbal negation marker in both. This ambiguity is neutralised in irrealis marked imperatives, however, which in my corpus do not occur with a preverbal *wa*, cf. (7).

- (7) Nyulwankurr kurrke.
 nyulwankurr kurrk-y₁i
 humbug 2PL.IRR-be
 ‘Don’t bother me.’ (100831-01NGUN, 2:52-2:54)

Plural imperatives, as in (7), are simply formed with the second plural irrealis prefix and no tense marking on the verb and the preverbal particle omitted.

Even though Ngarinyin has a dedicated imperative prefix for singular, intransitive imperatives, as illustrated in the first clause in (8), expression with this prefix cannot be explicitly negated since they cannot combine with an irrealis form. Instead, the second person irrealis prefix can be used, without tense inflection. Instead of the negative particle *wa*, several other preverbal particles are available, such as the modal particle *kajinka* ‘cannot’ in (8).

- (8) Mok buwa kajinka buk nyingkalu!
 mok bu-w₁a kajinka buk nyinga₂-w₂a₂-a-ø=lu
 hide IMP-fall CANNOT come.out 2SG-IRR-go-PRS=PROX
 ‘Hide, you cannot come out!’ (110925-NGUN, 2:45-2:48)

Another particle that may take the preverbal position in negative imperatives, in the absence of the regular negation marker *wa*, is *burray*, cf. (9).

- (9) Burray dalu winjaw ngabun!
 burray dalu winja₂-a₂-w₁u ngabun
 EMPH:NEG pour.out 3N_w.OBJ:2SG.SBJ-IRR-act.on water
 ‘Don’t pour out the water!’ (Rumsey 1982: 168)

The particle *burray* in (9) highlights the negative imperative and is therefore glossed here as ‘emphatic negation’ marker, but it can (diachronically) be

analysed as *burr-ay* ‘3PL-nothing’. Various inflected forms of *-ay* are found in Ngarinyin in negative roles beyond negative verbal clauses, as illustrated in the next sections.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Ngarinyin formally distinguishes two types of stative clauses, each with a separate marking strategy for negation. Stative clauses also appear to involve a third strategy that occurs both under verbal and non-verbal stative predication.

Verbal stative clauses, commonly formed with the verb *-y₁i* ‘be’ or another stative intransitive verb, display the most frequent negation strategy in Ngarinyin, with the negation particle *wa* and irrealis inflection, as in (10), (11) and (12).⁵

- (10) a. Jukurl nyarri.
jukurl nyarr-y₁i
happy 2PL-be
‘We are happy.’ (*constructed*)
- b. Wa jukurl nyerrke.
wa jukurl nyerrka₂-y₁i
NEG happy 2PL.EXCL.IRR-be
‘We are not happy.’ (090812JENGPDg, 1:00-1:03, *edited*)
- (11) a. Deyj badmara.
deyj barr-ma-ra
crack 3PL-do-PST
‘They are cracked.’ (*constructed*)
- b. Wa deyj bargumara.
wa deyj barrka₂ma-ra
NEG crack 3PL.IRR-do-PST
‘They are not cracked.’ (C26:14)
- (12) a. Ngabunda e.
ngabun-ra a₁-y₁i
water-LOC 3M.SG-be
‘He is in the water.’ (*constructed*)

⁵Impressionistically, the verbal strategy appears to be slightly more used for the first three types of stative clauses listed in the questionnaire, i.e. that of equation, proper inclusion and attribution, and the non-verbal one introduced below in locative predication, existential predication and possessive predication but the correlation is not absolute, as, e.g., the locative stative clause in (12) illustrates.

- b. Ngabunda angke.
 ngabun-ra angka₂-y₁i
 water-LOC 3M.SG:IRR-be
 ‘He is not in the water.’ (*constructed*)

As is common in stative constructions cross-linguistically, ‘be’-verbs are optional in most stative constructions in Ngarinyin and are frequently left out, as in (13a). For the standard marking of negation, however, the irrealis marker requires a verbal host and therefore a form of the verb -y₁i- ‘be’, or equivalent (13b).

- (13) a. Ngin rimijbarda.
 ngin rimij-barda
 1SG steal-NMLZ
 ‘I am a thief.’ (100903-21NGUN, 3:10-3:11)
- b. Ngin rimijbarda ngangke.
 ngin rimijbarda ngangka₂-y₁i-Ø
 1SG steal-NMLZ 1SG:IRR-be-PRS
 ‘I am not a thief.’ (*constructed*)

Instead of a verbal predicate, Ngarinyin may also use the dedicated negative predicate -ay ‘no(thing)’ in stative and possessive clauses, as is the case in other Australian languages (Veselinova 2013b: 135). Like nominal predicates in Ngarinyin more generally, this predicate takes a pronominal prefix that agrees with its head noun or pronominal subject and it can host nominal affixes, like case suffixes, but it does not display any verbal categories, as illustrated in B’s response in (14).

- (14) D: Kanangkurr burrnangka jirri?
 kanangkurr burr-nangka jirri?
 dog 3PL-GEN 3SG.ANA
 ‘Does he have dogs?’
- B: Kanangkurr burraynangka.
 kanangkurr burr-ay-nangka
 dog 3PL-nothing-GEN
 ‘He has no dogs.’ (C62:8:24–27)

The negative predicate -ay ‘no(thing)’ is quite versatile in Ngarinyin and seems to serve as the source construction for other, more crystallised forms in the language, like the particle *burray* illustrated in (9) and in §3.

In addition to the *wa* + irrealis marking strategy and the negative predicate *-ay* ‘no(thing)’, Ngarinyin appears to have (had) a third negation strategy, which is attested in stative constructions, simply formed by the question clitic *=ka*. This strategy is found both in non-verbal clauses, as in (15) and verbal stative constructions, as in the second clause in (16).

- (15) Bidibidika budmareri.
 bidibidi=*ka* burr-ma-ra-yirri
 small=*Q* 3PL-do-PST-CONT
 ‘They are not small, they were saying.’ (Coate & Elkin 1974, entry: *bidibidi*)
- (16) Didi emularu maniyangarri embularuka malwa mingkengingarri.
 di-di Ø-emularu ma₁-aniyangarri Ø-embularu=*ka* malwa mangk-y₁i-ngi-ngarri
 n_m.ANA-RED 3M.SG-foot n_m-good 3M.SG-foot=*Q* be.bad 3n_m:IRR-be-PST-SUB
 ‘That’s how his feet were good, his feet were not ugly.’ (C6:6:70)

The usage of the question particle as in (15) and (16) is rare in my contemporary text corpus of Ngarinyin, but does occur occasionally and is also reported by Rumsey (1982).

HC: @LSP
 please check
 this example, it
 does not switch
 to the next line

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Ngarinyin has two clearly identifiable complex clause constructions: a general subordinate construction and a construction for attributing speech, thought and intentions. In both constructions the marking of negation is the same as in simple clauses.

The Ngarinyin subordinate construction is signalled by the verbal suffix *-ngarri* SUB and often appears to carry an adverbial function (translated as ‘because’ or ‘when/while’), rather than signal clear dependency relation with a main clause, as illustrated in (17a). A similar structure has been reported for other Australian languages (Hale 1976, Nordlinger 2006). This construction also frequently occurs in discourse without an accompanying main clause, carrying a pragmatic back-grounding function instead of a syntactic one (cf. Mithun 2008). Negation in clauses marked with *-ngarri* is indicated with the negative particle *wa* and the irrealis prefix, like negation in other Ngarinyin verbal constructions, as in (17b).

- (17) a. jarl birrinngarri
 jarl burr-y₁i-n-ngarri
 put.in.oven 3PL-be-PRS-SUB
 ‘When/Because they baked it’ (*constructed*)

- b. *wa jarl burrkengarri*
wa jarl burrka₂-y₁i-ngarri
 NEG put.in.oven 3PL:IRR-be-SUB
 ‘When/Because they don’t bake it’ (C55:10:177)

Like in simple clauses, the negative particle *wa* may be left out in subordinate constructions, which, therefore, do not appear to differ in any way from negation in non-subordinated clauses.

The same assessment applies to the second type of complex clause construction in Ngarinyin, illustrated in (18) and (19). This construction consists of a clause or subclausal element (representing an utterance, thought or intention), followed by an inflected form of the verb *-ma-* ‘do’, which in this context is commonly translated as ‘say’, ‘think’ or ‘want’ (for details of this construction, see Rumsey 1982: 157–166 and Spronck 2015).

- (18) [[*Jinda waka angkulu*] *irrumara.*]
jinda wa=ka arrka₂-ngulu a₁-irra₂-ma-ra
 M.PROX NEG=Q 3SG.OBJ:1PL.INCL.SBJ:IRR-give 3M.SG-DEF-do-PST
 ‘“Why don’t we give it to him?” he said.’ (C14:2:14)

- (19) [[*Jinda nguru nginke*] *ama.*]
jinda nguru ngin-w₂a₂-y₂i-ø a₁-ma-ø
 m.PROX listen 1SG-IRR-be-PRS 3M.SG-do-PRS
 ‘He doesn’t want to listen and he shuts his ears’ (lit. ‘I do not listen,’ he does/says) (090831AJMJSMPDm, 1:21-1:22)

In (18) and (19), clausal boundaries are indicated with square brackets and the examples illustrate negation in a verbal construction with and without the marker *wa*, respectively. Since the construction in (18) and (19) also allows non-verbal embedded (sub-)clauses, all negation types introduced above may occur in this grammatical context.

2.5 Negative lexicalisations

Negative lexicalisations in Ngarinyin appear to follow the most common semantic patterns Veselinova (2013a,b) describes, including concepts such as ‘be unknown/not know’ (as in 20), ‘not understand’, ‘not present’, ‘not sacred’ etc. As (20) and the contrasting positive example of ‘know’ in (21) illustrates, however, negative lexicalisations neither receive a specific form of marking, nor stand in a paradigmatic relation with their positive counterpart.

- (20) Nyinilimbani.
 nyin-ilimba-ni
 2SG.OBJ:1SG.SBJ-not.know-PST
 ‘I did not know you.’ (Coate & Elkin 1974, entry: *-alimba*)
- (21) A: Jirringka laybiru nyindinangka?
 jirri-nga₁=ka laybiru nyinda₂-y₁i-nangka
 m.ANA-only=Q know 2SG-be-3SG:OBL
 ‘Do you know only him?’
 B: Jirringa laybiru nginangka.
 jirri-nga₁ laybiru ngi₂-y₁i-nangka
 m.ANA-only know 1SG-be-3SG:OBL
 ‘I know only him.’

In the absence of any specific formal marking of negative concepts as in (20), negative lexemes in Ngarinyin do not constitute a distinguishable class of verbs and their relevance for negation primarily emerges in translation. A relevant cultural observation in this respect is that licensed distribution of knowledge according to life stages and (kinship) affiliation is central to membership of the Ngarinyin community and absence or presence of an object or entity may have direct consequences on daily life. For example, not belonging to a certain social group, not talking to an avoidance relative or feeling the presence of deceased ancestors in a place or situation, all affect concrete decisions in the behaviour and actions of individuals, as they do in other Australian Indigenous societies (cf. Fleming 2014, Merlan 2020). Lexemes applying to such cases may require a negative translation in English, but are therefore not necessarily felt as less real or less part of the physical world for a Ngarinyin speaker, which might explain that these concepts do not form a dedicated lexical class.

The only other lexicogrammatical domain closely related to negation in Ngarinyin is that of modality, with which negation shares its main coding features. For example in (22) the irrealis receives a modal interpretation, signalled by the particle *kajinka* ‘cannot’, appearing in the same slot as the preverbal negation particle *wa*.

- (22) Kajinka ni wungkuminda.
 kajinka ni wunga₂-w₂a₂-minda-ø
 CANNOT think 3N_w.OBJ:3SG.SBJ-IRR-take-PRS
 ‘He can’t think about it.’ (100809-01NGUN, 3:01-3:03, *elicited*)

Given the similarities between the expression of modality and negation in Ngarinyin and other Worroran languages, some authors have questioned whether

negation in these languages actually constitutes a separate construction class, or, e.g., rather forms a subtype of modality. I will briefly address this discussion in §4.6.5.

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

As the brief dialogue in (21) illustrates, positive replies may be formed in Ngarinyin by echoing a turn of the addressee. Alternatively, speakers may use the interjection *yow* ‘yes’ to confirm a positive reply (as in 25 below). The negative counterpart of these strategies are constructed in a parallel fashion: a speaker may deny a proposition simply with a negative clause, or by using the interjection *burray* ‘no’, as in (23).

- (23) NG: Wa warda wanyirrko ngurr
wa warda wanyirr-w₂a₂-w₁u ngurr
NEG like 3N_w.OBJ:1PL.EXCL.SBJ-IRR-act.on hit
nyijilanngarri wungay.
nyirr-iy-y₁ila-n-ngarri wungay
3F.SG.OBJ:3PL.SBJ-FUT-hold-PRS-SUB woman
warda wunjon ngurrbangarri?
warda wunja₂-w₁u-n ngurr-ba-ngarri?
like 3N_w.OBJ:2SG.SBJ-act.on-PRS hit-ITER-SUB
‘We don’t like it when they hit her. Do you like hitting?’
JE: Wije.
wije
different
‘Absolutely not.’
NG: Burray.
burray
no
‘No.’
JE: Burray.
burray
no
‘No.’ (090812JENGPDi, 2:06-2:14)

The second turn in (23), by speaker JE, uses the interjection *wije* ‘different’, which is here interpreted as ‘absolutely not’. This use of *wije* ‘different’ appears not to be dialectal, however the interjection *burray* ‘no’, which is a negative reply to the question *warda wunjon ngurrbangarri* ‘do you like hitting?’, is frequently used in this function. The interjection likely derives from the inflected form *burray* ‘3PL-no’ and, as Veselinova (2013b) points out, the use of negative existentials is cross-linguistically quite common. The interjection *burray* ‘no’ in (23) is a fully conventionalised, non-variable form, rather than an inflected negative existential predicate (hence the different in gloss this function) and, as illustrated in §3.2 also has additional quantifying functions.

In addition to *burray* ‘no’, which has the positive equivalent *yow* ‘yes’, Ngarinyin also has an interjection that is not part of a positive-negative pair, but exclusively constitutes a negative strategy: *aka* ‘not so’. This interjection denies an expectation raised in the preceding clause, often in interaction, as in (24).

- (24) Describing a picture from the Family problems picture task (San Roque et al. 2012) in which two men offer the protagonist beer and he refuses:

Koj ba budmanangka
 koj ba₂-a burr-ma-nangka
 drink IMP-go 3PL-do-3SG.OBJ
 ‘-“Come drink,” they say.’
 aka wa warda wangka kokoj kudirri amarndirri
 aka wa warda wangka₂-(r)a ko-koj kurr-y₂i-irri a₁-ma-rndu-rri
 NOT.SO NEG like 3N_w.OBJ:1SG.SBJ:IRR-go.to RED-drink 2PL-be-DU 3M.SG-do-3PL.IO-DU
 jinda.
 jinda
 m.PROX
 ‘-“No I don’t like it. You two can drink,” he tells them two.’ (090812JENGPD_i, 1:10-1:17)

In the situation described in the narrative fragment in (24) the drinkers (‘they’) invite the protagonist to join them for a beer, leading to the socially desirable response to accept, which is rejected by the particle *aka* ‘not so’. In the corpus, *aka* ‘not so’ exclusively follows positive statements, but it may introduce both negative elaborating clauses (as in 24) and positive ones (25):

- (25) Yow budmara kanda birriwangilu Bungkunikurdeyali jina
 yow burr-ma-ra kanda birriwa₂-a-ngi-lu Bungkuni-kurde-yali jina
 yes 3PL-do-PST n_w.ANA 3PL:DEF-go-OPT-PROX Bungkuni-COM-EMPH m.PROX

HC: @LSP i do not know why the example is broader than it should be, could you see to limit it to textwidth?

budmara aka Bungkuni jirri joli awanya.
 burr-ma-ra aka Bungkuni jirri joli a₁-w₁a₁-nya
 3PL-do-PST NOT.SO Bungkuni m.ANA return 3M.SG-fall-DIST
 ‘“Yes,” they said here, “let them come with this Bungkuni as well,” they
 said. “No, Bungkuni can return”.’ (C22:50–51)

As these examples illustrate, *aka* ‘not so’ is particularly well suited for argumentative dialogue contexts and is often found at the left boundary of reported speech constructions in narratives.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Ngarinyin has two negative expressions used as independent pronouns and adnominal quantifiers: *malyan* ‘no’, ‘nothing’ and *burray* ‘no’, ‘nothing’, ‘nobody’.

In the brief dialogue in (26) the speakers contemplate the loss of traditional knowledge and JE’s first turn shows *malyan* ‘nothing’ both as part of the predicative construction ‘there is nothing’ and the independent expression ‘nothing’, ‘none’. The word *burray* in PN’s turn is interpretable either as a negative reply ‘no’, as introduced in the previous section, or the independent pronoun ‘none’, ‘nothing’.

- (26) JE: Kanangkan malyan... wa lindiba burrkawi malyan.
 kanangkan malyan... wa lindij-ba burrka₂-w₁u-yi malyan
 now nothing NEG flake-ITER 3PL:IRR-act.on-PST nothing
 ‘Nowadays (there is) nothing, they didn’t make spearheads, none.’
- PN: Burray wa layburru burrke.
 burray wa layburru burrka₂-y₂i-ø
 nothing, NEG know 3PL:IRR-be-PRS
 ‘Nothing, they don’t know how.’
- JE: Way layburru burrke.
 way layburru burrka₂-y₂i-ø
 NEG know 3PL:IRR-be-PRS
 ‘They don’t know.’ (11101502-PNNKDDJEUD, 4:36-4:43)

While *malyan* ‘no’, ‘nothing’ appears to be exclusively used for objects, *burray* ‘no, nothing, nobody’ can also refer to human beings, either as an independent pronoun or as a modifier. Even in the latter function it does not agree with the noun it modifies, however, as illustrated in (27).

- (27) a. Wa mara bundawi dubalangarri burray yila.
 wa mara bunda₂-y₂i-ø dubalangarri burray yila
 NEG see 3PL.OBJ:3PL.SBJ:IRR-be-PRS red no child
 ‘They do not see any light-skinned ones, no children.’ (110925-05NGUN, 1:36-1:37)
- b. Wa mara bundawi dubalangarri burray yila.
 wa mara bunda₂-y₂i-ø dubalangarri burray yila
 NEG see 3PL.OBJ:3PL.SBJ:IRR-be-PRS red no children
 ‘They do not see any light-skinned ones, nobody.’ (*constructed*)

An alternative interpretation of the phrase *burray yila* ‘no children’ in (27a) could be a predicative translation like ‘there are none, children’, in which case *burray* may be analysed as the predicative construction *burr-ay* ‘3PL-no’. In contemporary Ngarinyin, however, *burray*, both in its attributive and pronominal function, does not appear in any other inflectional form, so should therefore best be treated as a single, non-segmented morpheme.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Ngarinyin does not have a common strategy for deriving negative nouns or modifiers, but can approximate such derivations through the negative use of the question clitic (as in 15), or, more commonly, through collocations with the form *-aynangka* ‘not having’, as in (14).

An example in which the suffix *-nangka*, which may signal both genitive case and nominalisation, occurs in both functions together with the predicate *-ay* ‘no’ is shown in (28).

- (28) Munduwarri aynangkanangka.
 munduwarri a₁-ay-nangka-nangka
 louse 3M.SG-no-GEN-NMLZ
 ‘He has no lice.’ (lit. ‘(He is) a person not having lice’) (100722-04NGUS, 1:49-1:51)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Where negation is marked with a verb inflection in Ngarinyin, it necessarily scopes over the entire clause. Or, at least, the language does not allow to for-

mally distinguish clausal negation from negation that only scopes over a verb construction. Hence, both translations in (29) are equally appropriate.

- (29) Yali wa banyirrkumerernnyirri.
yali wa ba-nyirrk_{a2}-mara-y₁i-nyirri
kangaroo NEG 3PL.OBJ-1PL.EXCL.SBJ:IRR-take-IRR.PST-DU
'We did not catch (any) kangaroos.' / 'We caught no kangaroos.' (100722-08NGUS, 3:58-4:00)

As far as I am aware, speakers do not differentiate between these scope interpretations, also not through prosodic means. Highlighting narrow negative scope is of course possible under contrastive negation and in verbless clauses, in which negative verbal predicates and the negation marking question clitic scope over their associated head noun.

4.2 Negative polarity

No negative polarity items have been found in Ngarinyin.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Elements within the scope of the negative inflection (or a negative modifier) do not receive any special marking, such as a case form. This observation fits with the use of case in Ngarinyin more generally: although the language has a set of semantic cases to express relational and locational meanings, these are not conditioned by their syntactic environment and their use is always optional (cf. [Spronck 2015: 19–25](#)).

4.4 Reinforcing negation

An emphatic suffix that exclusively attaches to verbs is *-yali* EMPH. It may occur on negative verbs as well, thereby reinforcing the negative meaning expressed, as illustrated in (30).

- (30) Wa durr irr_{kumareyali} ru-di nangkurr
 wa durr irr_{ka₂-mara-ø-yali} ru-di nangkurr
 NEG strike 3M.SG.OBJ:1PL.INCL.SBJ:IRR-do-PRS-EMPH only-N_w-ANA miss
 irr_{wini}.
 irr-w₁u₁-ni
 3M.SG.OBJ:1PL.INCL.SBJ-act.on-PST

‘We do not hit him at all, we completely missed him.’ (C58:2:37-38)⁶

The most common intensifier in Ngarinyin is the suffix *-nga* ‘only’, ‘just’, which attaches to (pro)nominal elements. It frequently combines with *malyan* ‘no’, ‘nothing’ to form *malyangga* ‘nothing at all’.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Ngairinyin discourse does not often involve explicit coordination, but negative meanings can be interpreted across clauses, as in the case of the example of contrastive negation in (31).

- (31) Mangarri wa minjarl burrkume me wa minjarl burrkume,
 mangarri wa minjarl burrka₂-ma-y₁-i me wa minjarl burrka₂-ma-y₁-i,
 food NEG eat 3PL:IRR-do-IRR:PST food NEG eat 3PL:IRR-do-IRR:PST
 burray, nalijanga.
 burray, nalija-nga
 no tea-only
 ‘They did not eat one type of food or another type of food. Nothing, only
 tea.’ (111013-01NGUN: 2:13-2:16)

In this example, the positive phrase *nalijanga* ‘only tea’ contrasts with the preceding negative clauses *mangarri/me wa minjarl burrkume* ‘he did not eat food’.⁷ In my analysis, this constitutes a pragmatic contrast, rather than a distinct syntactic construction.

Contrastive negation is also exemplified in (3), repeated for convenience below as (32), which has the same structure as standard clausal negation elsewhere, but the presence of the free pronoun, which is often omitted in Ngarinyin, results from the pragmatic prominence of the subject, *nyingan* *darak nyinkayirri* ‘you do not enter (he does)’.

- (32) Darak anya nyingan darak nyinkayirri.
 darak a₁-a-nya nyingan darak nyin-w₂a₂-a-yirri
 go.in 3M.SG-go-DIST 2SG go.in 2SG-IRR-go-CONT
 ‘He enters, but you don’t.’ (lit. ‘He enters, you are not entering.’) (Coate
 1966: 118, line 285)

⁶The difference in tense between these clauses may be an error, but such changes are also common in mythological narratives, in which the narrator frequently alternates between presenting the events as part of an eternal here-and-now and a past, ancestral world.

⁷For further discussion of this construction, see example (34).

These examples show that, even though contrastive negation does not form a coherent syntactic construction, it may affect the expression of various elements in the clause.

In complex clauses, a negated main clause scopes over the subordinated clause, as in (33)

- (33) Commenting on a picture from the Family Problems picture task (San Roque et al. 2012).

Wa wardawa nyirrko budmangarri jinda picture.
 wa warda-wa nyirr-w₂a₂-w₁u bud-ma-ø-ngarri jinda picture
 NEG like-ITER 1PL.EXCL-IRR-act.on 3PL-do-PRS-SUB M.PROX picture
 ‘We don’t like it when they do as in this picture.’ (090812JENGPD_i, 1:24-1:27)

Ngarinyin does not explicitly mark coordinated clauses, but direct apposition as in (34) may be interpreted as coordination. Since negative inflection occurs on every finite verb, negation marking in both ‘coordinated’ and subordinated sentences is marked on each negated clause.

- (34) Mangarri wa minjarl burrkume me wa minjarl burrkume.
 mangarri wa minjarl burrka₂-ma-y₁-i me wa minjarl burrka₂-ma-y₁-i
 food NEG eat 3PL:IRR-do-IRR:PST food NEG eat 3PL:IRR-do-IRR:PST
 ‘They did not eat one type of food or another type of food.’ (111013-01NGUN: 2:13-2:15)⁸

As these examples illustrate, negation marking in Ngarinyin complex clauses does not differ from marking in simple clauses.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

Ngarinyin does not display negative transport, i.e. the negative interpretation of an embedded clause on the basis of negation in a matrix clause (e.g. ‘I don’t think that it will rain today’ for ‘I think that it will not rain today’).

Two syntactic factors preclude this phenomenon from happening in the language: the absence of a construction that explicitly marks thought as opposed to speech (Spronck 2015: 97) and the lack of a common strategy to embed propositions, i.e. a class of propositional attitude constructions (Spronck 2015: 133).

⁸The nouns *mangarri* and *me* both denote (vegetable) food, so the most likely interpretation of this sentence is that the two clauses re-enforce each other to express ‘They did not eat any type of food’. Also see example (31).

4.6.2 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

I am not aware of any occurrences of expletive negation in Ngarinyin, but the corpus contains instances of the use of *waka* NEG=Q in tag questions. Although (35) has been taken from a historical corpus and the example probably dates from the 1960s, English was already widespread in the Ngarinyin community at the time, so it is possible that this particular use represents an English calque.

- (35) Aw ru dambun wungunjura waringarri waka?
 aw ru dambun wa₁-ungunja-ra waringarri waka
 INJ only place n_w-where-LOC East NEG=Q
 ‘Ah, only the place is somewhere East, isn’t it?’ (C62:84)

4.6.3 Phasal polarity

Phasal polarity is not marked differently than negation in general, with an added temporal adverb. Compare the following example from (Coate & Oates 1970, orthography updated to the Ngarinyin spelling used in the rest of this chapter).

- (36) di irr-wilje-ni, wada a-minda-ni jinda wali wa
 then 3OBJ:3PL.SBJ-spear-PST cry.out 3M.SG-take-PST spear while NEG
 laybiru burrk-e-ngi-nangka malngarri
 know 3PL.IRR-be-PST-3SG.OBJ white
 ‘He cried out when he was being speared, for as yet they didn’t know the white man’ (Coate & Oates 1970: 82)

4.6.4 Diachronic notes and observations: re-cycling *wa*

Both the preverbal negation particle and the inflectional negation marker (irrealis), which Rumsey (1982) transcribes as w_2a_2 , have the same underlying phonological form. Even the question clitic =*ka*, which is also used to mark (non-verbal) negation (as in 15), may be derived from /*wa*/, since in Rumsey’s (1982) notation $-w_2$ may ‘strengthen’ to a velar nasal. This leads to the intriguing possibility that the three main elements involved in the marking of negation in Ngarinyin have all derived from the same diachronic source. Speculatively, this could have taken the form of a ‘Jespersen (re)cycling’ process (Jespersen 1917, Dahl 1979), whereby, e.g., the negation particle could have developed into an inflectional element and clitic through several steps of grammaticalisation.

- Hypothesis: Jespersen (re)cycling of w_2a
 irrealis inflection = question clitic (Rumsey 1982: 128) = negation particle?

While this scenario would make it easier to explain why the question clitic =*ka* Q is part of the inventory of negation markers in Ngarinyin as well, it is not supported by solid evidence in the absence of sufficient long term historical data.

Unfortunately, comparative data within the Worrorran language family (McGregor & Rumsey 2009) also does not offer further clues for either confirming or rejecting the hypothesis either since the pattern of similarity between the preverbal particle and the inflectional marking of negation seems to be unique to Ngarinyin.

In one of the closest neighbours of Ngarinyin, Worrorra (ISO: *wro*, Glottocode: *worr1237*), the negation particle has a similar form as in Ngarinyin but the verbal inflection is not cognate, cf. (37).

- (37) Worrorra (Worrorran, Kimberley region)
Waa jukurljukurl banganineerri.
waa jukurl-jukurl ba-nga=ni-n-nu-eerri
not happy-happy CNTE-1=be-NPST-2DAT-PROG
'I'm not happy to see you.' (Clendon 2014: 195)

In Wunambal, which McGregor & Rumsey (2009) identify as another branch of the Worrorran family, the preverbal particle resembles the negation particle of Worrorra's Eastern neighbour, the unrelated language Kija, rather than the negation particle of Worrorra and Ngarinyin.

- (38) Wunambal (Worrorran, Kimberley region)
Nguwa minja nyaanama.
nguwa minja nyaa-na=ma
NEG eat 1EXCL:PL-NEG=do
'We don't eat (it).' (Carr 2000: 184, cf. Kija (Jarrakan) *nguwān* NEG)

Even though the functions of irrealis and negation marking are shared by the inflectional elements in all three languages of the family, the Worrorra and Wunambal inflections do not appear to be cognate with the Ngarinyin one.

Also in the Worrorra dialect Unggumi (39) and the Wunambal dialect Gambera (40) negation marking appears to have a different origin. The preverbal particle differs from Ngarinyin in both languages.

- (39) Unggumi (Worrorran, Kimberley region)
Nyindi mudan jay bungunu.
nyindi mudan jay bu-ngu-nu
2SG NEG laugh NEG?-2SG-do?
'You are not laughing.' (Coate1676B, 9:45–9:47, *tentative gloss*)

(40) Gambera (Worrorran, Kimberley region)

Gabo nguwa buniyangi.

gabo nguwa bu-ni-ya-ngi

no NEG 3SG-NEG-go-PST

‘No, he did not go.’ (Coate1675B, 47:01–47:03, *tentative gloss*)

Only in Worrorra does the preverbal particle seem cognate, whereas the form of the inflectional marker differs from that of Ngarinyin in all of its closest relatives. These observations may indeed support a scenario in which negation marking in Ngarinyin has undergone a process that is rather idiosyncratic within the Worrorran family and involves the particle *wa*, but none of the clues introduced here constitute definitive evidence.

4.6.5 Negation and modality”

Across the Worrorran language family epistemic modal marking and negation show strong similarities, as is reflected in the glossing of inflectional elements involved in negation in these languages. In Worrorra, Clendon (2014) glosses the inflection on negative verbs (and epistemic modals) as ‘counterfactual’, suggesting that negation falls within the class of modal structures. Carr (2000), noting a similar overlap between negative and epistemic meanings in Wunambal decides to gloss the inflectional element involved in both as ‘negation’, given the relative frequency of the negative function.

The decision between these glosses is somewhat arbitrary: in all cases the inflectional element that in Ngarinyin I have glossed as ‘irrealis’, following Rumsey (1982), reflects an event that does/did *not occur in the real world*. This core meaning can be brought out particularly poignantly in Ngarinyin by considering the modal particles that do and do not combine with irrealis inflection. The particles that are shaded grey in Table 1 all combine with the irrealis, like the negation marker. The particles without colouring combine with the regular indicative.⁹

Each of the particles that are not restricted to irrealis constructions indicate modal meanings about events that either do occur or need to occur, according to the attitude indexed by the modal, whereas those particles combining with irrealis inflection exclusively reflect non-occurring or hypothetical events. The non-irrealis particles *marri* ‘would’ and *maji* ‘should’ signal events that customarily occur or *have to* occur, events with the irrealis particles *kajinka* ‘cannot’,

⁹The one particle shown in a box in the table, yaku ‘try’, has a different mood restriction: it only combines with future tense or the imperative. For further exemplification of each of these markers, see Spronck (2015).

Table 1: The Ngarinyin mood markers ordered by modal meaning and polarity

	negative	neutral	positive
epistemic	<i>kajinka</i> ‘cannot’	<i>marri</i> ‘would’ = <i>karra</i> ‘maybe’	<i>biyarra</i> ‘can’
neutral	<i>wa</i> ‘not’ <i>burray</i> ‘no’, ‘not’		
deontic	<i>menya</i> ‘should not (have)’	<i>maji</i> ‘should’ <i>yaku</i> ‘try’	<i>biya</i> ‘ought to’

burray ‘not’ and *wa* ‘not’ do not occur and the irrealis particles *biyarra* ‘can’ and *biya* ‘ought (to have)’, indicate that an event is held to be merely possible or should have occurred (but didn’t), respectively. (The clitic =*karra* ‘maybe’ is included for completeness but is not a preverbal particle and does therefore not condition irrealis mood.)

Given these distributions, the one apparent outlier seems to be *menya* ‘should not (have)’, which expresses a negative meaning but does not combine with the irrealis. For a closer inspection of the semantics of this particle, consider (41).

- (41) Bala wungo amara arri ngawa meny i merr
bala wunga₁-w₁u-∅ a₁-ma-ra arri ngawa meny a merr
spread 3N_w.OBJ:1SG.SBJ-act.on-FUT 3M.SG-do-PST about rain alas get.near
amanga.
a₁-ma-nga
3M.SG.OBJ:3SG.SBJ-take-PST
‘He wanted to spread it out, but when there was rain it got close to him,
although it shouldn’t have.’ (Coate 1970: 2, retranscribed and glosses added)

The situation described in (41) makes it clear that the deontic meaning ‘should not’ applies to an event the speaker would like not to have occurred, *but it did*. For this reason, I have glossed the particle as ‘alas’ in (41), it reflects an event that is presented as having taken place in the real world and therefore belongs with the non-irrealis particles. Although the status of the irrealis as a modal category appears to be varied and controversial in some languages (Mithun 1995), in

Ngarinyin irrealis marking seems to be highly consistent: the category applies to events that are portrayed as not actually occurring. This naturally includes negated events.

5 Conclusion

In summary, Ngarinyin has a small number of highly regular strategies for marking negation, both clauses and non-verbal phrases can be negated, although the division between the two is not always fully transparent.

As a general characterisation of the semantics of negation in Ngarinyin, I would suggest that it seems to be concerned with three separate semantic dimensions:

First, and most prominently, the relation between (verbally marked) negation and modality appears to hinge on a core meaning of the inflection involved in both categories: the prefix analysed as ‘irrealis’ signals that the event denoted by a verb so marked should not be interpreted as taking place in the actual world. If one would like to characterise this meaning as a pole of a scale it would be a scale of reality vs. irreality, as is further demonstrated by the relation between negative meanings, irreality and modality illustrated in §4.6.5 below.

Second, the non-verbal strategy does not receive irrealis marking and is either signalled with the non-verbal predicate *-ay* ‘no, none’ or the question clitic *=ka*, attaching to the negated referent. The main semantic distinction made with these strategies could perhaps be qualified as an opposition between absence and presence.

Finally, in the realm of discourse and argumentative dialogue, the interjection *aka* ‘not so’ (as in 24) carries a function that could be qualified as ‘disalignment’ (Du Bois 2007), contradicting the interlocutor’s expectations or an implicature raised by a sentence. The particle *burray* ‘no’, which may both occur as a pre-verbal negation particle and an interjection, connects ‘discourse’ negation with clausal negation and non-verbal negation, demonstrating that the same lexical element can operate in all three negation types in Ngarinyin.

The marking strategies identified in this chapter are summarised in Table 2, shown here along with their specific functions.

This chapter illustrated the various constructions and strategies in which these markers and inflections appear and noted that negation in Ngarinyin is both highly consistent. It also demonstrates close interaction with the semantic (and morphological) domain of modality.

Table 2: Summary of negation marking in Ngarinyin

marking	negation type
<i>wa</i> NEG + IRR-	any type of clausal negation
IRR-	clausal negation (but potentially ambiguous)
= <i>ka</i> Q (+ IRR-)	sub-clausal or non-verbal negation
- <i>ay</i> ‘nothing’	negative predication
<i>burray</i> ‘no’, ‘nothing’, ‘nobody’	negative particle and interjection
<i>aka</i> ‘not so’	negative interjection
<i>malyan</i> ‘no’, ‘nothing’	negative pronoun

Acknowledgements

Financial support during the writing of this chapter from the Helsinki University Humanities (HUH) programme and a Helsinki University three-year grant (3 v. *tutkimusrahaa*; project ‘Language emerging from human sociality: the case of speech representation’) is gratefully acknowledged. The data described here have been collected within projects funded by the Australian Research Council (ARC; project ‘Social Cognition and Language, the design resources of grammatical diversity’; PI Nick Evans 2008–2016), the Hans Rausing Endangered Language Programme (ELDP, 2011–2012) and the Australian Institute of Aboriginal and Torres Strait Islander Studies (AIATSIS; project ‘Interpreting Howard Coate’s Ngarinyin recordings’, 2011–2015). I thank, primarily, the Ngarinyin people who contributed to the recording and interpreting of the language presented in this chapter, above all Pansy Nulgit and her family. I also thank several research assistants for their help digitising texts from the Howard Coate collection (Coate 1930–1971) and the editors of the present volume, Matti Miestamo and Ljuba Veselinova, for initiating this project and for detailed and very helpful comments, which allowed for many improvements, as well as Héloïse Calame for proofreading and typesetting.

Abbreviations

1	first person	ITER	iterative
2	second person	LOC	locative
3	third person	M	masculine
ANA	anaphoric (pronoun)	N _m	m-class neuter gender (location)
CNTE	counterfactual	NPST	non-past
COM	comitative	N _w	w-class neuter gender (time)
CONT	continuative	NEG	negation
DAT	dative	NMLZ	nominaliser
DEF	definite subject	OBJ	object prefix
DIST	distal	OBL	oblique
DU	dual	OPT	optative
EMPH	emphatic	PL	plural
EXCL	exclusive	PRS	present
F	feminine	PROG	progressive
FUT	future	PROX	proximal
GEN	genitive	PST	past
IMP	imperative	Q	question particle
INCL	inclusive	RED	reduplication
INJ	interjection	SBJ	subject prefix
IO	indirect object suffix	SG	singular
IRR	irrealis	SUB	subordinate

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Negation in Nakoda

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This chapter is a description and analysis of clausal and non-clausal negation in Nakoda a moribund Siouan language also known as Assiniboine. In Nakoda the enclitics =š*i* and =ge(*n*) negate verbs, adverbs, modality particles, and predicative pronouns, while the suffix -*ni* negates indefinite pronouns and other quantifiers. Conjunctions, postpositions, and nouns (when they are not derived into a stative verb through zero conversion) cannot be negated. The chapter also deals with different topics including the narrow scope of negation, how to reinforce negation, negation in coordination and complex clauses, as well as negative transport. Lastly, synchronic data on negation in Nakoda also help to shed light on the historical development of Proto-Siouan negator **aši* and adversative *-š*V* in daughter languages.

Keywords: negation, Nakoda, typology, Siouan, diachrony.

1 Introduction

The Nakoda or Nakota language (ISO: [asb](#), Glottocode: [ass1247](#)) – also known as Assiniboine – is a Siouan language of the Mississippi Valley Siouan branch spoken in southern Saskatchewan (Canada) and northern Montana (USA). Closely related languages of the Dakotan branch includes Dakota, Lakota and Stoney. Although Nakoda is relatively homogeneous, there are two subdialects which reflect minor lexical and phonological differences between the western communities (i.e. Carry The Kettle, Mosquito / Grizzly Bear Head / Leanman, Canada; Fort Belknap, USA) and the eastern communities (i.e. Pheasant Rump, White Bear, Ocean Man, Canada; Fort Peck, USA) ([Parks & DeMallie 1992](#) and [Collette 2022](#)).

Nakoda is now seriously endangered and has less than 100 speakers in Montana and Saskatchewan combined. While the language is more viable in Montana where there are still some fluent speakers and a good deal of advanced learners,

in Canada the number of fluent speakers does not amount to more than ten, but efforts are being made to teach the language at the local and university levels. The situation can be summarized as such: 1) All competent speakers of Nakoda (seventy years-old or more) are bilingual in English and some have rudiments of Dakota, and Plains Cree;¹ 2) While Nakoda has diminished communicative viability (e.g. greetings, simple commands), it is nevertheless widely used by some elderly speakers in ceremonies, greetings, songs and prayers, and constitutes the backbone of Nakoda culture and ethnic identity.

Some typological features of Nakoda are provided here (based on [Cumberland 2005: viii-ix](#); [Ullrich 2018a: 40](#)). Nakoda is a left-branching, head-marking, and strictly verb final language (SOV), with the exception of post-verbal enclitics. It has no morphological marking of tense, no definite article and no nominal case markers. Core arguments are indexed by means of affixes on the verb, and can optionally be expressed by NP's. Nakoda is a polysynthetic language with an active/stative indexing system (or split intransitivity) that surfaces in the 1st and 2nd persons only; active verbs take volitional agent marking (e.g. *-wa-* 'I'; *-ma-* 'me'), while stative verbs take non-volitional patient marking (*-ma-* 'I'). 3rd person singular is not overtly marked, while 3rd person plural is marked for animate agent (=bi) or animate patient (*-wica-*). The inflectional morphology for pronominal indexes is prefixal or infixal, while negation, aspects and modalities, and sentence types (declarative, interrogative, imperative) are encoded by verbal enclitics and post-verbal particles.

In this paper I use data from my fieldwork on the Western dialect spoken in Carry The Kettle, textual examples drawn from a series of texts collected in Fort Belknap ([Parks et al. 2012a,b](#)) as well as [Cumberland's](#) (2005) reference grammar. Unreferenced examples stem from my fieldwork. The partly phonemic spelling system used in this chapter is known as the "Fort Belknap orthography"² and is the one actually in use in many Nakoda communities. Data collection followed the questionnaire for describing the negation system of a language, which was provided by the editors of this volume.

¹In the late 19th and early 20th century, Nakoda was still the dominant language in many Canadian reservations but began to lose ground in favor of Plains Cree or English. [McLeod \(2000: 447\)](#) reports, for example, that in Mosquito/Grizzly Bear's Head/Leanman Reserve (located in the Battleford area in Saskatchewan), the migration of three Plains Cree women from the nearby Red Pheasant Reserve at the turn of the 20th century weakened Nakoda language transmission since the children of these mixed couples learned Plains Cree from their mother despite the fact that their fathers spoke Nakoda.

²The Fort Belknap spelling system uses the American Phonetic Alphabet like the subscript hook *ç* for nasal vowels, *c* for [tʰ], *š* for [ʃ], *ž* for [ʒ], *ħ* for [x], *ğ* for [ɣ] and the apostrophe ' for the glottal stop [ʔ] and the ejective consonants.

2 Clausal negation

In this section I analyse five types of clausal negations: standard negation (§2.1), negation in non-declaratives clauses (§2.2), negation in stative clauses (§2.3), negation in non-main clauses (§2.4), and negative lexicalization (§2.5).

2.1 Standard negation

2.1.1 Negative enclitic =šĭ

In Nakoda a declarative verbal clause is negated with one of two post-verbal enclitics =šĭ or =gen. The choice between the enclitics is motivated by pragmatic factors as shown below. There are no structural differences (or constructional asymmetry) in simple declarative clauses between a negative and the corresponding affirmative, as shown in (1).

- (1) a. Mağážu no.
rain MALE.DECL
'It is raining.'
- b. Mağážu=šĭ no.
rain=NEG MALE.DECL
'It is not raining.'

Table 1 displays the post-verbal position template for enclitics (1–8) and particles (9–11) (adapted from Cumberland 2005: 310).³ An example of a verb that shows three enclitics and a male declarative particle is: *ecú=bĭ₃=kte₆=šĭ₇ no₁₁* 'they will not do it'.

³My placement of enclitics and particles differs from that of Cumberland (2005: 310). First, the enclitics =h̃, =h̃tĭyq, =š, and =s have been included since they occur after the negator =šĭ so an extra slot has been inserted. Second, *hųštá* 'hearsay' (originally of position 11) can be assigned to position 10 since both the gender-neutral declarative *c* and the female declarative *'* can occur after *hųštá*. There is no evidence to slot *c* 'declarative' in its own terminal position and on semantic grounds it should occur in position 11 with the rest of the sentence type particles.

Table 1: Template positions for post-verbal enclitics and particles

STEM	1	2	3	4	5	6	7
	<i>=hq</i> 'continuative aspect'	<i>=ga</i> 'durative aspect'	<i>=bi</i> '3PL ani- mate'	<i>=na</i> 'diminutive'	<i>=s'a</i> 'habitual aspect'	<i>=kta</i> 'potential mood' (POT)	<i>=ši</i> <i>=gen</i> 'negation'
8			9	10			
<i>=fi</i> 'intensifier, focus'			<i>jé'e</i> 'always'	<i>cá, céyaga otí'iga</i> 'deontic, epistemic modals'			
<i>=hijyq</i> 'augmentative, emphasisizer'				<i>hyštá</i> 'hearsay'			
<i>=š</i> 'adversative'							
<i>=s</i> 'hortative'							
					11		
					<i>he</i> 'interrogative'		
					<i>no</i> 'declarative (male)'		
					<i>c</i> 'declarative'		
					' ' 'declarative (female)'		
					<i>wo</i> 'imperative SG (male)'		

The ordering of position 2, 3, and 5 enclitics compared to that of the negative enclitic *=ši* (position 7) is shown in the following examples (2) and (3).

(2) *Ná=bi=kte=ši.*

2SBJ.go.there=PL=POT=NEG

'You all will not go there.'⁴

(3) (...) *ž-e-Ø-Ø-yá=:ga=bi=ši*

that-DST-3P-3A-say=DUR=PL=NEG

'(...) they haven't been saying that'⁵ (Parks et al. 2012b: 33)

Textual examples as well as elicited data contain no paradigmatic asymmetry since the negative *=ši* occurs with TAM (tense-aspect-mood) enclitics of all positions, as well as with person/number, and the diminutive. However, the data reveal some templatic re-ordering when the negative *=ši*₇ co-occurs with the aspectual enclitics *=hq*₁ 'continuative aspect' (4), and *=s'a*₅ 'habitual aspect' (5a vs 5b). The enclitic *=bi*₃ '3rd animate plural' also triggers re-ordering⁶

⁴In this article I indicate regressive phonetic nasalization, so an enclitic like *=bi* 'animate plural' can appear as *bi* or as *bĩ* if followed by an adjacent or non-adjacent nasal vowel.

⁵Nakoda verb stem can be split into two parts by person indexes, the initial one is usually shorter than the final one. DST stands for the shortest part of a discontinuous stem. It is not a root since it does not have any meaning in itself.

⁶The following sentence provides evidence of the templatic position of *=hq*₁ (when occurring with *=ga*₂), as well as the shift of position for *=bi*₃ '3rd animate plural':

- (4) Duwé i-Ø-Ø-kniŋe=šĩ₇=ha₁.
 people DST-3P-3A-mind=NEG=CONT
 ‘People didn’t mind about her.’
- (5) a. Dóha-ni Ø-basí=s’e₅=šĩ₇.
 when-NEG 3SBJ-drive=HAB=NEG
 ‘She never drives.’ (Cumberland 2005: 320)
- b. Wĩcá=bi wa-’á’i’-Ø-a=bi₃=šĩ₇=s’a₅.
 man=PL INDF-gossip-3SBJ-DST=PL=NEG=HAB
 ‘Men don’t usually gossip.’

Some speakers have the expected order (5a), while others do not (5b). One of my consultants rejected the re-ordering in (5b) but McBride (2016: 171–174) reports similar re-ordering between the negative enclitic and some aspectual markers in Kansa (a Siouan language of the Dhegiha branch). I do not know if violation of the basic order is motivated by dialectal, idiolectal, or chronolectal differences, elicitation context, pragmatic or semantic factors like intensification of a preceeding enclitic (see §4.5). Nevertheless, the fact that this phenomenon is widely attested in other Siouan languages may indicate that strict templatic ordering might not be the best way to analyze Siouan grammatical morphology (see Rankin et al. 2003: 186).

Standard negation is also used with three types of monoclausal complex verbs: auxiliary, modal, and adverbial constructions. Monoclausal complex verbs form a single semantic unit that contains a main verb or primary predicate (either an auxiliary or a modal verb) preceded by a complement verb or secondary predicate. These are labelled “compound verbs” by Boas & Deloria (1941) and Cumberland (2005: 391–398), and “secondary predication” by Ullrich (2018a: 122).

As indicated by Cumberland (2005: 399), in auxiliary verb constructions, the auxiliary is the head of the phrase and it is inflected for person, number, aspect, modality, and negation. The complement verb, on the other hand, is non-finite and functions as the semantic core of the construction which is modified by the auxiliary verb. The most common auxiliaries are: *ú* ‘be continuously doing; wandering around’ (6a); *áya* 1) ‘become (stative); 2) ‘continue doing (active)’ (6b); *iyáya* ‘become gradually’; and *yagá* ~ *yigá* ‘(sit) continuously; keep on’ (6c). In auxiliary verb constructions, only the auxiliary verb can be negated.

-
- (i) Écen Ø-yá=bi=ha:=ga.
 so 3SBJ-go=PL=CONT=DUR
 ‘So they kept going.’ (Cumberland 2005: 315).

- (6) a. *Ǫhá Ǫ-ú=bi=šǵ.*
 laugh 3SBJ-be.continuously=PL=NEG
 ‘They were not continuously laughing.’
 b. *Nodǵn t’á a-Ǫ-yé=šǵ.*
 hunger die DST-3SBJ-become=NEG
 ‘He is not that hungry.’ (lit. ‘He is not starting to die from hunger.’)
 c. *Ǫdé-ša-ya i-Ǫ-yáye=šǵ.*
 face-red-ADV DST-3SBJ-gradually=NEG
 ‘He didn’t blush.’

Modal verbs can also function as primary predicate. As shown by **Cumberland** (2005: 392) modal verbs have the following features: 1) they express degrees of certainty, ability, permission, and obligation; 2) they require a complement marker either =*bi* (similar in function to English infinitival *to*) or =*hta* ‘POT (potential modality)’ or none in some cases (e.g. *ogǵhi* ‘be able’); and 3) the subject of the complement verb may be identical to that of the main verb, but often times the implied subject of the complement verb is omitted. As with the auxiliaries only modality verbs like *cǵǵá* ‘want’ (7) and *snokya* ‘know’ (8), *ogǵhi* ‘be able’ (9), and *šǵá* ‘try’ (10) can be negated (e.g. **ecǵ=hte=šǵ šǵá* ‘try not to do that’).

- (7) a. *Eyá=bi Ǫ-wa-cǵge=šǵ.*
 say=COMP 3P-1A-want=NEG
 ‘I don’t want/like to say it.’
 b. *Téha yǵǵá=bi Ǫ-wa-cǵge=šǵ.*
 long.time sit=COMP 3P-1A-want=NEG
 ‘I don’t want/like to wait for too long.’
 (8) *Dóken ecǵ=bi snok-Ǫ-wá-ye=šǵ.*
 how do=COMP know-3P-1A-DST=NEG
 ‘I don’t know how to do it.’
 (9) *Manǵ o-Ǫ-Ǫ-ǵǵhi=bi=šǵ.*
 walk DST-3P-3A-able=PL=NEG
 ‘They cannot walk.’
 (10) *Ecǵ=hta šǵá=šǵ.*
 do=POT try.2.IMP=NEG
 ‘Don’t try to do that.’

The last type of complex monoclausal verb construction is those involving a main verb and what [Cumberland \(2005: 406\)](#) labels “adverbial verb complements” (see also [Ullrich 2018a: 122–125](#)). The morphosyntactic properties of this complex construction are as follow: 1) the verbal complement is non-finite (although it can be negated); 2) it often lacks the final stem-forming *-a* (resulting in the devoicing of voiced consonants); 3) both the verbs describe separate actions which combine to form a single event. Active verbs occur in secondary predication as in (11) which is a simultaneous predicate construction ([Ullrich 2018a: 273–274](#)). The verbs are adjacent and not truncated, and they share minimally one argument. When the negator =šj is added to the verbal complement the construction is translated as ‘do X without Y’. The complement verb is nonfinite and no 1st or 2nd person markers can be added.

- (11) a. Wa’óyabi k-nuhé=šj Ø-hí.
 book POSS-have=NEG 3SBJ-arrive
 ‘She arrived without her book.’
 b. Yuḥ’ú=šj Ø-Ø-yúda.
 peel=NEG 3P-3A-eat.it.
 ‘He is eating it without peeling it.’

In (12) the negated verb *dágeyešj* ‘s/he does not say a thing’ can be made into a secondary predicate by adding the adverbial morpheme *-ḥ*. My corpus also contains examples as in (13d) where the negator =šj is positioned before the derivational morpheme *-yq* indicating that it has scope only over the derived modifier *teḥíyq* ‘with difficulty’ and not over the primary predicate *mawáni* (13e).

- (12) Gá wįćįjana žé Ø-giktá, ḥįkna pamąknena-ḥ,
 then girl that 3SBJ-get.up and head.bowed-ADV
 dág-eye=šj=ḥ Ø-yagá.
 thing-say=NEG=ADV 3SBJ-sit
 ‘Then this girl got up and with her head bowed, she sat silently.’ ([Parks et al. 2012a: 52](#))
- (13) a. *teḥí* ‘it is difficult’ (verb)
 b. *teḥíyq* ‘with difficulty’ (adverb)
 c. *teḥįšj* ‘it is easy; cheap’ (verb) (with regressive nasalization)
 d. *teḥįšjyq* ‘easily; without difficulty’

- e. *Teḥíšji-yq* *ma-wá-ni*.
 difficult.NEG-ADV DST-1SBJ-walk
 ‘I walk easily.’

Finally, although =š*ji* occurs mainly on verbs and deverbal nouns (e.g. *wqyága* ‘s/he sees it’ (VB.TR) > *wqyágeš*ji** ‘blindness’ (N)) it can also be used on some predicative pronouns (e.g. *miyé* ‘it is me, I’ > *miyéš*ji** ‘it is not me’), adverbs (e.g. *aké* ‘again’ > *akéš*ji** ‘not again’; *nahqḥ* ‘still, yet’ **nahqḥci* > *nahqḥt*ji**š*ji* ‘it is not yet’ (VB.INTR)), and some modality particles (e.g. *céyaga* ‘should, must’ > *céyageš*ji** ‘should not, must not’).

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Negation in non-declarative clauses like prohibitives (i.e. negated imperative) and negated hortatives are formed by simply negating imperatives. The imperatives are formed by taking the bare stem (which corresponds on the surface with a verb inflected with -Ø- a 3rd person agent or subject) as such for a single addressee or adding the plural enclitic =*bi* to indicate a plurality of addressees. Gendered particles are used depending of the speaker only: *m*₁₁ (neutral for the speaker); *w*₀₁ (male speaker talking to a single addressee of both genders) and *b*₀₁ (male speaker talking to two addressees or more, of both genders). There are no specific female particles.

Prohibitives (or negated imperatives) are marked simply by adding the negator =š*ji* on the positive imperative form. Examples (14) show uses of a prohibitive by female speakers and examples (15) by speakers of both genders, while examples (16) display the equivalent male forms. Cumberland (2005: 332) notes that male imperative particles are used in relationships of respect.

(14) Female speaker

- a. Céye=š*ji*!
 cry.2.IMP=NEG
 ‘Don’t cry!’
- b. Įknįge=š*ji*!
 mind.2.IMP=NEG
 ‘Don’t mind it!’
- c. Iyúhana ecú=bi=š*ji*!
 all do.2.IMP=PL=NEG
 ‘Don’t you all do it!’

(15) Gender neutral

- a. “A-ná-mi-ji-ǰma=bi=šǰ m,” e-Ø-yá [...]
 LOC-DST-1P-BEN-hide=PL=NEG IMP DST-3SBJ-say
 “Don’t [you all] hide it from me,” she said [...]’ (female speaker)
 (Parks et al. 2012b: 53)
- b. Mi-cǰja-bi, wóda m,” e-Ø-yá.
 1-child-PL eat.2.IMP IMP DST-3SBJ.say
 “My children, eat,” he said.’ (male speaker) (Parks et al. 2012b: 87)

(16) Male speaker

- a. Dóhǰ-ni škáde=šǰ wo.
 when-NEG play.2.IMP=NEG MALE.IMP.SG
 ‘Never play with it.’
- b. [...] eyé=šǰ ca wo.
 say.2.IMP=NEG must MALE.IMP.SG
 ‘[...] you must not say that.’ (Parks et al. 2012b: 31)
- c. “Kúwa=bi=šǰ bo,” e-Ø-yá.
 bother.2.IMP=PL=NEG MALE.IMP.PL DST-3SBJ.say
 “Don’t bother her,” he said.’ (Parks et al. 2012b: 79)
- d. A-k-núštǰ=bi=šǰ, a-wǰ-k-naga bo.
 DST-POSS-lose=PL=NEG over-DST-POSS-see MALE.IMP.PL
 ‘Do not lose your own [language], protect it you all.’

The hortative construction (*let’s*) is obtained by adding the prefix/infix *u(g)-* ‘dual’ and the enclitic =s ‘hortative’ on the positive imperative form (e.g. *yá* ‘s/he goes there’ > *u-yá=s* ‘let’s go there’). The negative hortatives (*let’s not*) adds =šǰ₇ before =s₈: (e.g. *yé=šǰ* ‘s/he does not go there’ > *u-yé=šǰ=s* ‘let’s not go there’).⁷

2.3 Negation in stative predications

According to Payne (1997: 114) proper inclusion is used when an entity is identified as belonging to a particular group or class of individuals, while equative predication is when an entity (usually the subject) is coreferential to the entity expressed by the predicate nominal, such as in *She* (SBJ) *is my mother*. In Nakoda

⁷I wish to thank Tom Shawl (pers. comm. 2020) who has provided these examples. I have not been able to find textual examples of negative hortative verbs.

proper inclusion is expressed with a denominal stative verb (17) or with the stative verb *žéca* ‘s/he/it is of that kind’ (VB.STAT) that follows a noun which indicates a given trade or ethnic group (18). Stative predications are negated by the enclitic =šĭ.

(17) Proper inclusion

Na-Ø-kóda=šĭ duká Šahí-Ø-ya.
DST-3SBJ-Nakoda=NEG but Cree-3SBJ-DST
‘He is not Nakoda but Cree.’

(18) a. Sakná žé-Ø-ca.

Metis that-3SBJ-be
‘She is Metis.’

b. Sakná žé-Ø-ce=šĭ.

Metis that-3SBJ-be=NEG
‘She is not Metis.’

Equative predication is when the subject of a verb is coreferential with a complement NP. In Nakoda this is expressed with the copula verb *é* ‘s/he/it is’ (VB.STAT), which often occurs attached on a demonstrative as shown in (19a) and (20b).

However, with kinship nouns negation of an equative prediction is done using a negated transitive verb instead of *žé’ěšĭ* ‘that one is not’. In (19b) the transitive kinship verb *húgu* ‘she is his/her mother’ is built on the nominal stem *húgu* ‘his/her mother’ on which a relational or causative suffix -ya is added. Other transitive verbs of non-kin relation are built like this as shown in (20b). (Note the suppletive kinship terms for ‘mother’ in (19)).

(19) Equation

a. Žé-Ø-’e iná.

that-3SBJ-be 1SBJ.mother
‘That’s my mother!’ / ‘She is my mother!’

b. Húgu-Ø-wa-ye=šĭ.

mother-3P-1A-RLN=NEG
‘I don’t have her as a mother.’ (intended: ‘She is not my mother.’)

(20) a. Žé-Ø-’e koná.

that-3SBJ-be friend
‘That’s my friend.’

- b. Koná-Ø-wa-ye=šĭ.
 friend-3P-1A-RLN=NEG
 ‘I am not friends with him/her.’ (intended: ‘She is not my friend.’)

In Nakoda, attributive, locative, existential and possessive predications are all expressed verbally and negated accordingly with the standard negative enclitic =šĭ as seen in (21b, 22b). There is no distinction between permanent properties and temporary ones and no special ways to negate them.

(21) Attributive predication

- a. Wĭcá žé wa-snók-Ø-ya.
 man that INDF-know-3SBJ-DST
 ‘That man is knowledgeable.’
- b. Wĭcá žé wa-snók-Ø-ye=šĭ.
 man that INDF-know-3SBJ-DST=NEG
 ‘That man is not knowledgeable.’

(22) Locative predication

- a. Mína žé cą’ówa én Ø-yĭgá.
 knife that floor on 3SBJ-sit
 ‘The knife is on the floor.’
- b. Mína žé cą’ówa én Ø-yĭgé=šĭ.
 knife that floor on 3SBJ-sit=NEG
 ‘The knife is not on the floor.’ (lit. ‘The knife is not sitting on the floor.’)

Predicative possession can be expressed with the intransitive verb *táwa* ‘s/he owns it; his/her thing’ (23) or with the transitive verb *yuhá* ‘s/he has it; carries it’ (24). Both verbs are negated using the standard negative enclitic =šĭ.

(23) Possessive predication

- a. Tí-bi žé Ø-táwa.
 live-NMLZ that 3SBJ-own
 ‘He owns that house.’
- b. Tí-bi žé Ø-táwa=šĭ.
 live-NMLZ that 3SBJ-own=NEG
 ‘He doesn’t own that house.’

- (24) a. Amúgiya Ø-mn-uhá.
 car 3P-1A-have
 ‘I have a car.’
 b. Amúgiya Ø-mn-uhé=šĭ.
 car 3P-1A-have=NEG
 ‘I don’t have a car.’

Traditionally, the label ‘existential predication’ has been used to analyse expressions that predicate the existence of an entity in a given location or in general (i.e. non-locational). This is misleading as shown by [Creissels \(2014\)](#) who highlights the fact that such constructions have discourse turning functions in that they introduce new referents (*Look! There’s Peter*). [Cumberland \(2005: 256\)](#) showed that the stative verb *yuká* ‘it exists’ (VB.STAT) is a general existential verb that predicates the existence of an entity but with no reference to location or position. This verb inflects only for third person singular and is negated with the enclitic =šĭ (25). Other ontological stative verbs like *dágu* ‘it is a thing’ or *duwé* ‘it is someone’ can also predicate existence and are negated with =šĭ or =gen (26). Negative locative-presentative predication (e.g. ‘there are no opossums here’) is expressed with the negative lexical verb *wanĭja* ‘there is none; s/he lacks something’ (see §2.5), which is the most common way to encode negative existence.

- (25) Existential predication
- a. Mázaska Ø-yuká.
 money 3SBJ-be
 ‘There is money.’
- b. Mázaska Ø-yuké=šĭ.
 money 3SBJ-be=NEG
 ‘There is no money.’
- (26) Ø-Dágu-gen.
 3SBJ-thing-NEG
 ‘It is nothing.’

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In Nakoda complement and subordinate clauses are nominalized clauses that function as a core argument of the verb ([Cumberland 2005: 415](#)); they are introduced by a demonstrative such as *žé* ‘that one’ or *né* ‘this one’. As seen in the

examples below the negative enclitic =šǰi can occur on the complement verb (27), on the main verb (28b), or on both (28c).

- (27) Wa-n-ǰc'i-jaǰa=bi=šǰi žé Ø-wašté.
 INDF-2SBJ-REFL-make=PL-NEG COMP 3SBJ-good
 'It's good you didn't make it happen; it's good it wasn't your fault.'
 (Cumberland 2005: 415)

- (28) a. Ø-Ű=kte žé snok-Ø-wá-ya.
 3SBJ-come=POT COMP know-3P-1A-DST
 'I know that he is coming.'
 b. Ø-Ű=kte žé snok-Ø-wá-ye=šǰi.
 3SBJ-come=POT COMP know-3P-1A-DST=NEG
 'I didn't know that he was coming.'
 c. Ø-Ű=kte=šǰi žé snok-Ø-wá-ye=šǰi.
 3SBJ-come=POT=NEG COMP know-3P-1A-DST=NEG
 'I didn't know that he was not coming.'

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Negative lexicalization deals with lexically idiosyncratic negatives that may fuse a negator and a verb with a positive meaning (although it is not always the case). Some senses are more prone than others to be encoded as separate lexical items. Examples of negative lexicalization in the languages of the world include 'not yet', 'not know' (e.g. English *dunno*), or 'not talk', etc. (see Veselinova 2013: 137). In Nakoda negative existential predication can be expressed with verbs built on the stative root *-nǰja-* 'to not exist; to lack' (*nǰja* 's/he/it lacks'; *manǰja* 'I lack it', *niñǰja* 'you lack it') which often occurs with locational adverbs. When the indefinite object prefix *wa-* is added on *-nǰja-* the resulting verb negates the existence of an entity or indicates the lack of an entity (animate or inanimate) and the resulting meaning of *wanǰja* is 's/he/it is nothing, dead; there is none; s/he/it lacks things', as shown in example (29).

- (29) a. Wó'ošija Ø-wa-nǰja=bi nén.
 rattlesnake 3SBJ-INDF-be.none=PL here
 'There are no rattlesnakes here.'
 b. Pahá Ø-wa-nǰja=bi.
 hair 3SBJ-INDF-be.none=PL
 'They are bald.'

- c. Wóyude Ø-wa-níja.
food 3SBJ-INDF-be.none
'There is no food.'
- d. Wanágaš Ø-wa-níja.
long.ago 3SBJ-INDF-be.none
'He passed away a long time ago.'

Veselinova (2013: 137) has shown that cross-linguistically negative existentials often originate from verbs meaning 'to lack', 'to be absent', 'there is not', 'to be empty', or 'to be dead'. These verbs state the non-existence of an entity, rather than negating a positive predicate. The Nakoda example described above conforms to this typological generalization since *waníja* has no positive version and cannot be negated; instead the predicate 's/he/it did not die' is expressed by negating the verb *t'á* 'to die', *t'éšǰ* 's/he/it did not die'.

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

As shown in Table 1, position 7 hosts another negative enclitic =*gen* (~=*ge*). It is used by fluent speakers although rarely in elicitation context. The enclitic =*gen* also has a wide distribution as it can occur on verbs, quantifiers and indefinite pronouns (see §3.2.). Cumberland (2005: 321–322) discusses the negative enclitic =*gen* but does not provide its pragmatic meaning, saying only that it is synonymous with =*šǰ*. However, in elicitation contexts speakers provide slightly different translations for minimal pairs as seen in (30).

- (30) a. Ec-Ø-Ø-ú=kte=šǰ.
do-3P-3A-DST=POT=NEG
'He won't do it.'
- b. Ec-Ø-Ø-ú=kte=*gen*.
do-3P-3A-DST=POT=NEG
'He won't do it anyways.'

Nakoda =*ge(n)* is cognate with the Lakota enclitic =*ka* which, according to Ullrich (2011: 69), expresses "shock in response to something or an attitude of strong contradiction or discredit or negation, often with a touch of irony". My consultant provided similar meanings for =*gen* and explained the distinction between =*šǰ* and =*gen* in the following way: "If someone asks you about something and you have no clue, you say *snokwáyešǰ* 'I don't know' but if s/he keeps on asking

the same question then you say *snokwáyegen* ‘I don’t know [and stop bothering me with it]’”. As seen in (30b) and below the stronger emotional nuances expressed by *=gen* are often translated as ‘not ... anyways’ or ‘not ... for what I care’ in (31–32).

- (31) Wahtë-Ø-wa-na=*gen*!
 hate-3P-1A-evaluate=NEG
 ‘I don’t like it (and I don’t care).’ (the speaker shrugged her shoulders while uttering this sentence)
- (32) Táńca wąží Ø-Ø-kté=*gen*.
 deer INDF 3P-3A-kill=NEG
 ‘He didn’t kill a deer anyways.’

Like the Lakota enclitic *=ka*, Nakoda *=gen* expresses a stronger negative statement than *=šį* and may express sarcasm, carelessness, or surprise when faced with the unexpected. Textual examples illustrate these pragmatic effects. Example (33) is especially revealing since the sentence starts with *wahtëšįhtįyena*, an expression of discouragement or extreme disgust.⁸

- (33) Wahtë=*šį*-htįye-na! Mi-tágoš, wíbazoka wé-[ci]-ji-kna=*gen*.
 bad=NEG-INTS-evaluate 1-grandson juneberries 1A-[2P.1A]-BEN-save=NEG

HC: @LSP see vertical space before translation because of slightly too large example

‘For Pete’s sake. Grandson, I didn’t save those juneberries for you.’ (Parks et al. 2012b: 127)

As suggested by an anonymous reviewer the negators *=ka* in Lakota and *=gen* in Nakoda may stem from an ancestral combination of the distal demonstrative **ka* ‘that one’ + **-rį* ‘negation’ (one of the three negatives found in Proto-Siouan). Lakota kept only *=ka* while Nakoda has reflexes of both **ka* (> *=ge*) and **karį* (***kani* > ***keni* > *=gen*). The vowel discrepancy between Nakoda *=ge(n)* and Lakota *=ka* is due to vowel interference from the two other demonstratives *né* ‘this one (near speaker)’ and *žé* ‘that one (near the listener)’.

⁸The verb *wahtënašį* ‘s/he hates, dislikes sb, smth’ (VB.TR) which occurs in examples (31) and (33) is derived from the stative verb *wašté* ‘s/he/it is good’ through fricative symbolism of the type *š* > *ħ* which is common in Siouan languages (Rankin et al. 2003: 181, fn 4). That *wahtë-* does not mean ‘dislike’ by itself is shown by the fact that it always requires the negative enclitic *=šį* and rarely *=ge(n)* as in *Dágu wahtëge!* ‘It’s good for nothing!’

Although =*gen* is unfrequently used, both orally and in narratives, in the few occurrences I could gather it seems to display paradigmatic asymmetry occurring mainly with enclitics =*bi* ‘3rd plural animate’ and =*ka* ‘potential’. More textual data is needed in order to fully circumscribe the paradigmatic (a)symmetry of =*gen*.

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

In Nakoda a negative reply to a polar question is expressed with the interjections *hiyá* ‘no’. For positive replies the gendered interjections *há* ‘yes’ (male and female), ‘hello’ (female) or *háu* ‘yes, hello’ (male) are used. Although (34–35) do have the verb repeated in the answer, this is not obligatory, as shown in (38–39).

- (34) Q: Wąží-ń é-Ø-n-agu?
 one-SPEC DST-3P-2A-take
 ‘Did you take one specifically?’
 A: Hiyá, dágu é-Ø-mn-agu=ši.
 no any DST-3P-1A-take=NEG
 ‘No, I didn’t take any.’
- (35) Q: Ø-Iyé=bi he Ø-ú=bi žé?
 3SBJ-be=PL Q 3SBJ-come.here=PL that
 ‘Is it them coming?’
 A: Há, Ø-iyé=bi.
 yes 3SBJ-be=PL
 ‘Yes, it’s them.’

In Canada, Nakoda is an endangered language that is not transmitted to children and it is spoken fluently by a handful of elderly people. Nakoda language is only taught a few hours per cycles in school and occasions to hear fluent speakers discuss in their language for more than a few seconds are rare. The fact that traditional texts rarely contain casual conversations combined with the impossibility to document natural conversations – which are fundamental to elucidate whether Nakoda has content-based or truth-based replies to negative interrogations – forces me to leave the question open. Data obtained from translations (36–37) seems to parallel English too closely to provide a clear picture of the situation.

- (36) Q: Ø-Dayá=šĭ he?
 3SBJ-good=NEG Q
 ‘Isn’t it good?’
 A: Hiyá, Ø-dayá=šĭ.
 no 3SBJ-good=NEG
 ‘No, it is not good.’
- (37) Q: Ø-Dayá=šĭ he?
 3SBJ-good=NEG Q
 ‘Isn’t it good?’
 A: Há, Ø-dayá.
 yes 3SBJ-good
 ‘Yes, it is good.’

However, on comparative grounds one could expect Nakoda to align on Lakota where both *hán* ‘yes’ and *hiyá* ‘no’ have polarity reversing properties, see (38–39).

- (38) Q: Ø-L-uhá šni he?
 3P-2A-have NEG Q
 ‘Do you not have it?’
 A: Hán Ø-bl-uhá šni.
 yes 3P-1A-have NEG
 ‘No, I don’t have it. (lit. yes I don’t have it)’
- (39) Q: Ø-Hí šni he?
 3SBJ-arrive NEG Q
 ‘Did he not come?’
 A: Hiyá, Ø-hí.
 no 3SBJ-arrive
 ‘Yes, he came (lit. no, he came)’

3.2 Negative indefinite pronouns, and quantifiers

In this section I describe the morphology, syntax and semantics of Nakoda negative indefinite pronouns and negative quantifiers. As shown by *Haspelmath (1997: 21–22)*, in many languages indefinite pronouns come in series and are formed with a root expressing one of the major ontological categories (PERSON, THING,

PLACE, etc.) to which is added a marker of indefiniteness, as in English *some-*, *any-*, and *no-*. Nakoda, like other Siouan languages, functions differently since indefinite pronouns do not have a dedicated indefinite morpheme like in English. Nakoda has a weak noun/verb distinction and nouns for generic categories (e.g. *duwé* ‘person’) can be converted into stative verbs (*duwé* ‘s/he is someone’; *Madúwe he?* ‘Who am I?’), interrogative pronouns (*duwé* ‘who’), or even indefinite pronouns (*duwé* ‘someone’) with no change in the surface form. Negative indefinite pronouns are formed by adding the negative suffix *-ni* ~ *-na* for some speakers (from Proto-Siouan **rɪ*) on the interrogative pronouns as indicated in Table 2.

Table 2: Nakoda generic nouns and derived indefinite pronouns

ontological categories	thing	person	place
noun	<i>dágu</i> ‘thing, any’	<i>duwé</i> ‘person, none’	---
stative verb	<i>dágu</i> ‘it is something’	<i>duwé</i> ‘s/he is someone’	---
interrogative pronoun	<i>dágu</i> ‘what’	<i>duwé</i> ‘who’	<i>duktén</i> ‘where’ (static)
indefinite pronoun	<i>dágu</i> ‘something’	<i>duwé</i> ‘someone’	<i>duktéh</i> ‘somewhere’ <i>dokíya</i> ‘somewhere’
negative indefinite pronoun	<i>dáguni</i> ‘nothing, none’ (animate)	<i>duwéni</i> ‘nobody’	<i>dukténi</i> ‘nowhere’

In this section I will treat the forms of Table 2 that can be negated, namely the stative verbs and the indefinite pronouns. As stated before *dágu* ‘thing’ and *duwé* ‘person’ can be used as nouns and stative verbs, but it should be added that the negative indefinite pronouns in *-ni* can also be turned into stative verbs: *duwé* ‘person’ (N, VB.STAT) > *duwéni* ‘nobody, no one’ (PRO) > *duwénišj* ‘there is nobody, no one’ (VB.STAT). Examples in (40) illustrates the negative derivations with the noun/pronoun *dágu* ‘thing, something’. These negative stative verbs can also express existential predication and occur in sentence final position unlike pronouns as in (41–42).

- (40) a. *dágu* ‘thing, something’ (N, PRO)
 b. *dágu-ni* ‘nothing, none’ (PRO)
 c. *Dágu-ni-ǎ Ø-wa-cíge=šj.*
 thing-NEG-EMPH 3P-1A-want=NEG
 ‘I want nothing at all.’

- d. Ø-dágu-ni=šį ‘it is nothing’ (VB.STAT); ‘zero’ (N)
 e. Ø-Dágu-ni=šį=ħtiya.
 3SBJ-thing-NEG=NEG=EMPH
 ‘It is nothing at all.’ (VB.STAT)
- (41) Ókšą a-Ø-Ø-kída=bi ɯká Ø-duwé-ni=šį.
 around DST-3P-3A-look=PL but 3SBJ-person-NEG=NEG
 ‘They looked around for him but there was nobody.’
- (42) a. Mázaska Ø-dágu-ni=šį.
 money 3SBJ-thing-NEG-NEG
 ‘There is no money.’
 b. Hąwí Ø-dágu-ni=šį.
 moon 3SBJ-thing-NEG=NEG
 ‘There is no moon.’

The indefinite pronouns function as an argument of the verb and can be replaced by a NP. They are negated with the suffix *-ni* (or a variant *-na*). The major morphosyntactic feature of negative indefinite pronouns is that the verb must obligatorily be in the negative form as in (43–44).

- (43) Dágu-ni Ø-wa-cįge=šį.
 thing-NEG 3P-1A-want=NEG
 ‘I want nothing.’ (lit. ‘I don’t want nothing.’)
- (44) Duwé-ni Ø-ħi=šį.
 person-NEG 3SBJ-arrive.here=NEG
 ‘Nobody came.’ (lit. ‘No one did not come.’)

Nakoda also has a construction involving the generic nouns *dágu* ‘thing’ and *duwé* ‘person’ and a negated clause. The meaning of these negated clauses is similar to that of *dáguni* ‘nothing’ or *duwéni* ‘no one, nobody’ and a negated verb and these may be in free variation (e.g. *Duwéni híšį*. vs. *Duwé híšį* ‘Nobody came.’) as noted by Cumberland (2005: 361). One of my consultants proposed that the difference between the two sets was due to formality, where speakers often truncated the redundant *-ni* in fast speech. However, here the single English translation is misleading. Based on comparison with Lakota equivalent constructions I suggest that the indefinite negative pronouns in *-ni* function as pronoun, while the generic nouns are more accurately analyzed as nouns functioning as direct object

of the verb as seen in (45–47) – compare Lakota *tákuni eye šni* ‘She said nothing; She didn’t say nothing’ with *táku eye šni* ‘She didn’t say a thing’ (Ullrich 2018b: 284). This is why I translate them with a generic noun (thing, person, place).

- (45) a. Dágu Ø-wa-cíge=šj.
 thing 3P-1A-want-NEG
 ‘I want none of it.’ (lit. ‘I do not want a thing.’)
 b. Dágu o-yápte=šj!
 thing LOC-leave.over.2.IMP=NEG
 ‘Don’t you leave food over!’ (lit. ‘Do not leave a thing over.’)
- (46) a. Duwé Ø-hí=šj.
 person 3SBJ-arrive=NEG
 ‘Nobody came.’ (lit. ‘People did not arrive.’)
 b. Duwé wa-’í-Ø-yuǵe=šj.
 person INDF-DST-3SBJ-ask=NEG
 ‘No one was asking questions.’ (lit. ‘People did not ask questions.’)
- (47) Dóki yǐ=kte=šj.
 place 3SBJ.go=POT=NEG
 ‘He is going nowhere.’ (lit. ‘He is not going to a place.’)

When *dágu* and *duwé* (or in some cases the indefinites pronouns *dáguni* ‘nothing’ and *duwéni* ‘no one, nobody’) occur after a noun phrase in a negated clause as in (48), the reading of the generic noun *dágu* or the indefinite negative pronoun *dáguni* is quantificational ‘no, not ... any’ according to Cumberland (2005: 361) and Ullrich (2018b: 112) for the Lakota equivalents.⁹ Here it is important to note that *dágu* and *duwé* do not have this quantificational meaning in positive clauses so the construction *generic noun + negated verb* could be considered as a collocation.

- (48) a. Dáguškina dágu wicá-mn-uhe=šj.
 child any 3P.PL-1A-have=NEG
 ‘I don’t have any children.’ (Cumberland 2005: 361)
 b. Mázaska dágu ȳ-k’ú=bi=šj.
 money any 1PL.SBJ-give=PASS-NEG
 ‘We were not given any money.’

⁹The Lakota indefinite pronouns *tákuni* or *tuwéni* occurring after a noun in a negated clause (e.g. *Hokšíla tákuni waŋwičhablake šni* ‘I did not see any boys.’) are labelled “indefinite negative articles” by Ullrich (2011: 812).

- c. Žéhəç'ehə dágu cótağa Ø-yuké=ši.
 back.then any gun 3SBJ-be=NEG
 'Back then there weren't any guns.' (Parks et al. 2012b: 78)

A demonstrative (*žé* 'that; the' or *né* 'this') often occurs with count nouns (49–50) but this is not obligatory, as seen in (48).

- (49) Taspá žé dágu-na tem-Ø-Ø-yá=bi=ši.
 apple the thing-NEG devour-3P-3A-DST=PL=NEG
 'They didn't eat any of the apples; they ate none of the apples.'
 (Cumberland 2005: 360)

- (50) Mi-súga-bi né duwé-ni-ñ Ø-háske=ši.
 1SBJ-younger.sibling-PL this person-NEG-EMPH 3SBJ-tall=NEG
 'None of my younger brothers is tall.'

Other pronouns and quantifiers can be negated with *-ni* or even *-ge(n)*. This is the case for *umá* 'one of two; the other(s)' > *umáni* 'neither of them' (51) and the universal quantifier *iyúha* 'all; every' > *iyúhagen* 'any of it' (52).

- (51) Umá-ni-ñ dágu-ni uq-ógini=bi=ši.
 both-NEG-? thing-NEG 1PL.SBJ-get=PASS=NEG
 'Neither of us got anything.' (Cumberland 2005: 360)
- (52) a. Iyúha-gen Ø-we-ksúye=ši.
 all-NEG 3P-1A-recall=NEG
 'I don't remember any of it.' (Parks et al. 2012a: 36)
- b. Iyúha i-Ø-yúta=bi=ši.
 all INS-3SBJ-try=PL=NEG
 'None of them tried it.'

Cumberland (2005: 367) lists the following positive partitives: *abá* 'some, some of' [count or mass]; *cogán* 'half' [count or mass]; *edáhaq* 'some, some of' [count or mass]; *dóna* 'some, several, how many'; and *wąžíñ* 'any one'. The last affirmative partitive *wąžíñ* 'any one' has a negative counterpart with *-ni* built from the numeral *wąží* 'one; a': *wąží* > * *wąžíni* > *wąžíniñ* 'no; not one; not a single one; neither' (Cumberland 2005: 362–363). The final suffix *-ñ* 'augmentative' (according to Cumberland 2005: 363) is obligatory with *wąžíniñ*, but its exact semantic input is still obscure as seen in (53–54) and (51) above.

- (53) Wįcá-bi né wąží-ni-ń snok-Ø-Ø-yá=bi=şį.
 man-PL DEM one-NEG-? know-3P-3A-DST=PL=NEG
 ‘Neither of the men knew it.’
- (54) Dáguşki-bi-na wąží-ni-ń Ø=hí=şį.
 child-PL-DIM one-NEG-? 3SBJ-arrive.here=NEG
 ‘None of the children came.’

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Nakoda nouns have no case markers for subject, object or any other functions. Plurality is marked with =*bi* but only for animates, while inanimate nouns have no specific or obligatory marking for plurality (besides plural demonstratives or reduplication on the verb). Absentative, privative or antonymic meanings are expressed with postpositions (55a–55d) or with negated verbs (56–59). The postposition *cóna* ‘lacking, deprived of’ is the functional correspondent of the English suffix *-less* and expresses a destitutive or privative meaning which derives an adverb, a derived noun or a stative verb from a simple noun. The postposition *cóna* attaches directly on monosyllabic nouns (55a–55b) or on contracted nouns such as *hąm-* (<*hąba* ‘shoe’) (55c). With non-contractible nouns *cóna* provokes a change of stress (55d). Finally, with nouns of three syllables or more *cóna* carries its own accent and is written separately (55e).

- (55) a. *pá* ‘head’ (N) > *pacóna* ‘s/he/it is headless’ (VB.STAT)
 b. *sí* ‘foot’ (N) > *sicóna* ‘barefoot’ (ADV)
 c. *hąba* ‘shoe’ (N) > *hąmcóna* ‘s/he is without moccasins’ (VB.STAT);
 ‘shoeless’ (ADV)
 d. *ókne* ‘sleeve’ (N) > *oknécona* ‘sleeveless vest’ (N)
 e. Huńnáńyabi, asąbi *cóna* waşte-Ø-wa-na.
 coffee milk without good-3P-1A-evaluate
 ‘I like coffee without milk.’

Antonymy, as expressed in English with the lexical prefix *un-* (e.g. *spoken* vs *unspoken*), can be indicated by adding the negative enclitic =*şį* on the positive version of a stative (56–57) or active verb (58b).

- (56) *ecédu* ‘in a common correct way’ (VB.STAT)
 > *ecéduşį* ‘in an uncommon way, not the way it is supposed to be’ (ADV)

- (57) Huḥnáḥyabi skúye=šǫ žé Ø-mn-áktą.
 coffee sweet=NEG DEM 3P-1A-drink-POT
 ‘I’ll drink coffee unsweetened.’
- (58) a. Wa’óyabi k-nuhá Ø-hí.
 book poss-have 3SBJ-arrive
 ‘She arrived with her book.’
 b. Wa’óyabi k-nuhé=šǫ Ø-hí.
 book poss-have=NEG 3SBJ-arrive
 ‘She arrived without her book.’

Other antonymic are formed with a negative verb (59a), negative verbal compounds (59b), zero-derived negative verb (59c). Verbs lexicalized with =šǫ often have a meaning that is lexicalized and thus more compositional (59b, 60c). The asterisk (*) as in (59d) indicates that the intermeditate stage in the derivation is not attested synchronically or diachronically as in (59d).

(59) Derived verbs

- a. wíyukcǫ ‘s/he thinks about things.’ (VB.INTR.INDF)
 > wíyukcǫšǫ ‘s/he is bold, brave’ (VB.INTR) (lit. ‘s/he does not think about things’);
- b. tawácǫ ecédu ‘his/her mind is right’ (VB.STAT)
 > tawácǫ ecédušǫ ‘s/he is stupid’ (VB.STAT) (lit. ‘his/her mind is not right’);
- c. miní ‘water’ (N)
 > miníšǫ ‘it is dry, arid, waterless’ (VB.STAT) (lit. ‘it is not wet’);
- d. *ítǫ ‘s/he tells the truth’
 > ítǫšǫ ‘s/he is lying’ (VB.INTR) (lit. ‘s/he is not telling the truth’).¹⁰

Example (60) shows derived nouns that are more or less transparent.

¹⁰The verb *ítǫ* ‘S/he tells the truth’ has never been reported for Nakoda, but must have existed in an anterior stage of the language since it occurs in Riggs’ dictionary of Dakota (1992 [1890]) where he notes that it is now obsolete.

(60) Derived nouns

- a. *dqyǫšǝ yigá* ‘s/he is not well seated’ (VB.INTR)
> *dqyǫšǝ yigá* ‘death bed’ (N);
- b. *wqyága* ‘s/he sees sb, smth’ (VB.TR); ‘s/he sees’ (VB.TR)
> *wqyágešǝ* ‘blindness’ (N);
- c. *ecá* ‘s/he/it is of that kind’ (VB.STAT)
> **ecábi* (NI) > *ecábišǝ* ‘invisible spirit, ghost’ (N);
- d. *i’á* ‘s/he speaks, talks to sb’ (VB.TR1)
> *i’ěšǝ* ‘mute’ (N);
- e. *gicízabi* ‘they fight one another’ (VB.INTR.RECP)
> *gicízabišǝ* ‘peace’ (N);
- f. *špá* ‘it is cooked’ (VB.STAT)
> *špǫšǝ* ‘it is raw’ (lit. ‘it is not cooked’) (VB.STAT)
> *špǫšǝ yúda* ‘s/he eats it raw’ (lit. ‘S/he eats it uncooked.’)
> *špǫšǝ yúdabi* ‘watermelon’ (N) (lit. that which is eaten uncooked’).

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

In a negated clause the denial can be neutral (e.g. *he did not go*) or it can have a narrow scope (i.e. *he did not go* [underlying that someone else did]). There are three means of narrowing the scope of negation to a core argument or a constituent in Nakoda: with adversative pronouns, emphatic pronouns, and changes in word order. Adversative pronouns are formed by adding the suffix *-š* ‘adversative’ on the pronominal stem *-iye-* ‘be, self; one’s own’; *m-iyé* ‘I, myself, my own’ > *m-iyé-š* ‘as for me, myself, my own, I on the other hand’. Cumberland (2005: 173–174) describes the suffix *-š* as expressing “[...] a negative contrast between what is expected and what actually occurs.” As seen in (61–62) the adversative pronoun occurs before the negated verb and narrows the scope of the negation to the subject of the verb.

- (61) Ø-Bohá cén Ø-iyé-š Ø-yé=šǝ iyáme-Ø-ye=šǝ. Žécen
3SBJ-swell thus 3-self-ADVS 3SBJ-go=NEG hunt-3SBJ-go=NEG then.later
cǝhága-bi iyáme-Ø-ya=bi.
older.brother-PL hunt-3SBJ-go=PL
‘It was swelling so he did not go, he did not go hunting. Then later his

older brothers went hunting.’ (Wing 2002: 50)

- (62) **M-iyé-š** **dágu** Ø-ká=bi **žé** o-Ø-wá-pe=šj.
 1SBJ-self-ADVS thing 3SBJ-discuss=PL DEM DST-3P-1A-take.part=NEG
 ‘As for me I didn’t take part in the discussion.’

Another way to narrow the scope of a negated verb is to use the emphatic pronoun *ĩš* ‘s/he, it, they too, as well’ or a compounded version *né’ĩš* ‘this one too’ (with demonstrative *né*) after the word under emphasis. In a clause with a negated verb these pronouns have an adversative meaning similar to the adversative pronoun (63).

- (63) a. John šugatağa Ø-Ø-kté=šj.
 John horse 3P-3A-kill=NEG
 ‘John killed the horse.’ (neutral scope)
 b. John **né’ĩš** šugatağa Ø-Ø-kté=šj.
 John this-EMPH horse 3P-3A-kill=NEG
 ‘**John** didn’t kill the horse.’ (narrow scope on subject)

Lastly, constituent negation under a narrow scope can be conveyed by word order modification from the neutral order Adverb + Verb order (64a) to Verb + Adverb final (64b).¹¹

- (64) a. Hąhébi dóki Ø-yí=kte=šj.
 tonight somewhere 3SBJ-go=POT=NEG
 ‘He is going nowhere tonight.’ (neutral scope)
 b. Mi-híkna ti’óda ektá Ø-yé=šj **h́tániha**.
 1-husband town to 3SBJ-go=NEG yesterday.
 ‘My husband didn’t go to town **yesterday**.’ (narrow scope)

4.2 Negative polarity

I have not been able to find cases of negative polarity in Nakoda texts, or field work. This is a topic that will require more investigation.

¹¹I thank Tom Shawl (p.c. 2022) who provided examples for the last two ways of expressing narrow scope on negation.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

As mentioned in §1, Nakoda does not have nominal case markers and all grammatical relations are indicated on the verb via pronominal affixes. Bare nouns in Nakoda can have definite or indefinite readings in English as with (65) which has a definite meaning. However, definiteness is often expressed with a demonstrative *né* ‘this one’ or *žé* ‘that one; the’ (66), or a numeral *wąží* ‘one’ that can function as an indefinite article ‘a’ (67).

- (65) Coníca bus-Ø-Ø-yá jé.
dried.meat dry-3P-3A-CAUS HAB
‘He always dries the meat (under the sun).’
- (66) Šúga žé wí a-Ø-Ø-néža.
dog DEM tent LOC-3P-3A-urinate
‘That dog urinated on the tent.’
- (67) Búza wąží Ø-Ø-k’ú=bi.
cat a 3P-3A-give=PL
‘They gave her a cat.’

In negative constructions there is a tendency to use the bare noun as in (63b) independently with an definite (68) or an indefinite reading (69).

- (68) Šúga caš-Ø-Ø-tų=ši.
dog name-3P-3A-bear=NEG
‘He didn’t name the dog.’
- (69) Iyécigayena opé-Ø-wa-tų=ši.
car buy-3P-1A-DST=NEG
‘I didn’t buy a car.’

With mass nouns the partitive *edáhq* is optional in negative constructions as seen in (70b–70c) (see Miestamo 2014 for more details).

- (70) a. Waǰpé edáhq Ø-wá-cíga.
tea some 3P-1A-want
‘I want some tea.’
- b. Waǰpé Ø-wá-cíge=ši.
tea 3P-1A-want=NEG
‘I don’t want tea.’

- c. Waḥpé edáha Ø-wa-cíge=ši.
 tea some 3P-1A-want=NEG
 ‘I don’t want tea.’

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Derivational suffixes, phonetic lengthening and less frequently double negators are used to reinforce negation in Nakoda. For the sake of brevity I will concentrate on the intensifying or augmentative functions of *-ḥtiyq* as shown in negative clauses. The formative *-ḥtiyq* occurs as a suffix with stative and active verbs, but also on a handful of lexicalized combinations with nouns, pronouns and adverbs. When the suffix *-ḥtiyq* occurs before the grammatical enclitics it functions as a derivational intensifier of gradable expressions like stative verbs. In other words, it scales upward or downward the degree of a gradable expression and enables the speaker to project his/her subjectivity on the outside world. As can be seen in (71b) the negative =ši has scope only over the intensifier *-ḥtiyq* and not over the predicate *dqyq* ‘s/he/it is good’ (VB.STAT).

- (71) a. Onówa né Ø-dayá=ši.
 song this 3SBJ-good=NEG
 ‘This song is not good.’
 b. Onówa né Ø-dayá-ḥtiye=ši.
 song this 3SBJ-good-INTS=NEG
 ‘This song is really not that good.’

However, the formative =*ḥtiyq* can also cliticize on active verbs. In this case it is slotted in position 8 (as seen in Table 1) and has scope over the immediately preceding grammatical enclitic. In (72b) for instance =*ḥtiyq* intensifies, or reinforces =ši ‘NEG’ and is translated with adverbs such as ‘absolutely’ or ‘completely’:¹²

- (72) a. O-Ø-wá-gihı=ši.
 DST-3P-1A-able=NEG
 ‘I cannot do it.’

¹²Although more work needs to be done in this area of Nakoda enclitics I hypothesize that with active verbs the enclitic =*ḥtiyq* does not signal intensification in the strictest sense of the term (since an active verb is not gradable), but sentence emphasis (i.e. truth-value focus). The speaker seems to imply that there are no chances, even remote ones, for the sentence not to be true. To this effect de Reuse (1982: 157) notes that in Lakota when the intensification enclitic =*ḥča* occurs after the negator =*šni*, it is dominated by the sentence and not by the verb.

- b. O-Ø-wá-gihj=šj=ħtiya!
 DST-3P-1A-able=NEG=EMPH
 ‘I absolutely cannot do it!’

Example (73) displays a set of derivatives based on the generic noun *dágu* that highlights the meaning of *-ħ* and *=ħtiya* in negative clauses. In (73c, 73e, and 73f) *=ħtiya* and *-ħ* accentuate the negative scope of the sentence but without modifying its content. In (73f), *=ħtiya* emphatically denies that the younger brothers are tall.

- (73) a. *duwé* ‘person, someone’ (N, PRO)
 b. *duwé-ni* ‘nobody, none’ (PRO)
 c. *duwé-ni-ħ* ‘nobody at all; none at all’ (PRO)
 d. *Ø-duwé-ni=šj* ‘it is nobody’ (VB.STAT)
 e. *Ø-Duwé-ni=šj=ħtiya*.
 3SBJ-person-NEG=NEG=EMPH
 ‘It is nobody at all.’ (VB.STAT)
 f. *Mi-súga-bi né duwé-ni-ħ Ø-háske=šj*.
 1-younger.brother-PL this someone-NEG-EMPH 3SBJ-tall=NEG
 ‘None of my younger brothers is tall.’

A second mechanism used to reinforce negation is the phonetic lengthening of vowels (shown below with a triangular colon (:*ː*) after the vowel). With negative interrogative pronouns or negative adverbs built with the non-verbal negative suffix *-ni*, emphatic vowel lengthening affects the vowel of the stressed syllable as seen in (74a, 74b).

- (74) a. (...) *duwé:ni-ħ* *dág-e-Ø-ye=šj* *ħušta*.
 person-NEG-EMPH thing-DST-3SBJ-say=NEG it.is.said
 ‘(...) no one at all didn’t say anything, it is said.’ (Parks et al. 2012a: 74)
 b. *Dó:hą-ni Ø-gišní=bj=kte=šj*.
 when-NEG 3SBJ-be.well=PL=POT=NEG
 ‘They will never be well.’ (Parks et al. 2012a: 52)

Reduplicated negation (see also Boas & Deloria 1941: 105) which consists in doubling the standard negator *=šj* on verbs (*=šjšj*) is also used to reinforce negation as in (75) but it is seldom heard, although it appears on some derived adverbs: *ektá* (postposition) ‘at, in, to a location or destination’ > *ektášj* ‘wrongly’ > *ektášjšj* ‘mistakenly’.

- (75) Žé dágu Ø-wašté=ši=ši žé Ø-Ø-ké no.
 that thing 3SBJ-good=NEG=NEG that 3P-3A-indicate MALE.DECL
 ‘What he talked about (lit. indicated) is really not good.’ (Parks et al. 2012b: 115–116; my translation)

Lastly, as seen in (76) (replicated from (32)), the negative enclitic =*gen* can also pragmatically reinforce a negative statement. Another example includes the interjection *Wahtéwanagen!* ‘I don’t like it (and I don’t care)’.

- (76) Táħca wāží Ø-Ø-kté=*gen*.
 deer a 3P-3A-kill=NEG
 ‘He didn’t kill a deer anyways.’

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Negative coordination is expressed by conjoining the coordinator *eštá* ‘or’ (‘nor’ in negative construction) (77a) and the post-verbal particle *kó* ‘also, too’ which means ‘either’ when followed by a negated verb (77b).

- (77) a. Wǐ-Ø-yą eštá wǐ-Ø-cá.
 woman-3SBJ-DST or man-3SBJ-DST
 ‘Was it a woman or a man?’
 b. Wašin-’i’a-bi wāží-na-ǎ eštá, wa-Ø-mn-ápi=ši
 English-speak-NMLZ one-NEG-? or DST-3P-1A-speak
 na-Ø-wá-ǎ’u=ši kó.
 DST-3P-1A-understand=NEG either
 ‘I didn’t speak a word of English, I couldn’t understand or speak, either.’ (Parks et al. 2012b: 127)

I did not find any special constructions that express contrastive negation, except by joining two clauses (with an initial negated verb) with the coordinator *duká* ‘but’, as in (78). This falls under standard negation.

- (78) Na-Ø-kóda=ši duká Wa-Ø-šǐju.
 DST-3SBJ-Nakoda but DST-3SBJ-White
 ‘He is not Nakoda but White.’

4.6 Other aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

Negative transport (or negative raising) is the phenomenon whereby the negator of a main clause predicate negates a subordinated clause. Horn (1978) observed that predicates such as *think*, *believe*, *should*, and *want* allow negative transport, while *be able*, *be possible*, *may*, *can*, *know*, *cause*, and *order* do not. For instance, in *I think [he is not sleeping]* the negator *not* negates the lower clause *be sleeping* (and not *I think*) while in *I do not think [he is sleeping]* the negator *not* negates the sleeping as well and not the thinking, although negation is expressed in the main clause.

Examples (79–80) show negative transport with the verb *cíǵá* ‘s/he wants/likes somebody, something’ (VB.TR) which is used here as a modal in a compound verb (see §2.2 above).

- (79) Kná=bi Ø-wa-cíǵe=šǵ.
go.back=COMP 3P-1A-want=NEG
‘I don’t want to go back.’
- (80) John Ø-yá=kte žé Ø-wa-cíǵe=šǵ.
John 3SBJ-go.there=POT COMP 3P-1A-want=NEG
‘I don’t want John to leave.’

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation refers to clauses where the speaker objects how negation is expressed, but agrees with its content (e.g. *It’s not hard to do*, *it’s infeasible*). Example (81) illustrates metalinguistic negation where the negative clause has scope not over the predicate but on the numeral adverb *núba* ‘two’.

- (81) Núba wíćá-Ø-yuhe=šǵ, dóba wíćá-Ø-yuha.
two 3P.PL-3A-have=NEG four 3P.PL-3A-have
‘She doesn’t have two (children), she has four.’

As said before Nakoda is not used on a daily basis anymore in Canada (except when older speakers visit one another, and some speak only English even in that context). Because of these constraints I have not been able to collect natural utterances illustrating metalinguistic negation and the associated intricacies expressed by differences in prosody or sign language.

4.6.3 Diachrony of Siouan negation

Three negative morphemes have been reconstructed for Proto-Siouan (Rankin et al. 2015): *-ku, *-rĭ (> Dakota, Lakota and Nakoda pronominal negator -ni) and *-aši (> Osage aži; Lakota =šni; Nakoda and Stoney =šĭ). Rankin et al. (2015) suggest that the unexpected nasalization of *i* into *ĭ* in both Nakoda and Stoney is due to the long association of =šĭ with reflexes of *-rĭ. While Boas & Deloria (1941: 109) put forth the idea that the Dakota/Lakota negative enclitic -šni is the adversative suffix -š on which is added the negative -ni, a closer examination of Siouan comparative data strongly suggests that the segment š occurring in Lakota/Dakota -šni and the adversative suffix -š are in fact two distinct elements. This is shown by their distinct ablauting behavior. On the basis of Dhegiha Siouan languages the initial *a* of *-aši can be analyzed as part of the suffix (e.g. Osage aži) although linguists working on Dakotan dialects segment it as a stem final vowel. Rankin (2006: 6) suggests that *a* is an ablaut vowel that contracts with the stem-final vowel of verbs and ablauts to *e* in Dakotan dialects, while the adversative enclitic -š (< *-šV) does not trigger ablaut. Thus, Dakota/Lakota =šni combines two negators *aši and *rĭ (> *širĭ > šni) just like Mandan -nix is a fusion of two negative markers *-rĭ and *-axi (plus consonant symbolism š > x). Kasak (2019: 303) suggests the following historical development: *-rĭ-axi > **-rĭ-xi > =nix. In sum, Nakoda data on the morphophonological behavior of these elements reinforces the conclusion that Proto-Siouan *-aši ‘negation’ and *-šV ‘adversative’ have different etymologies since the negative =šĭ ablauts systematically (*a* > *e*) while the adversative =š does not: *mağázuktaš otí’iga* ‘I think it might rain.’ (Cumberland 2005: 239) vs. *mağázuktešĭ* ‘it will not rain’.

5 Summary of negation in Nakoda

To summarize the present chapter, in Nakoda the enclitics =šĭ and =ge(n) negate verbs, adverbs, modality particles, and predicative pronouns, while the suffix -ni negates indefinite pronouns and other quantifiers. Conjunctions, postpositions, and nouns (when they are not derived into a stative verb through zero conversion) cannot be negated.

Table 3: Summary of negation in Nakoda

		Section	Example
=šǫ	negative postclitic used with		
	a) clauses		
	- simple clauses	§2.1.1	(1–5)
	- monoclauses (verb + auxiliary)	§2.1.1	(6)
	- monoclauses (verb + modal auxiliary)	§2.1.1	(7–10)
	- monoclauses (adverb + verb)	§2.1	(11–13)
	b) non-declarative clauses	§2.2	(14–16)
	c) stative predications		
	- proper inclusion	§2.3	(17–18)
	- equation	§2.3	(19–20)
	- attributive predication	§2.3	(21)
	- locative	§2.3	(22)
	- possessive predication	§2.3	(23–24)
	- existential predication	§2.3	(25–26)
	d) non-main clauses	§2.4	(27–28)
	e) non-clausal structures		
	- negative replies	§3.1	(34–37)
	- negative derivation	§3.3	(56–60)
	f) reinforcing negation (with the sentence emphatic =hǫǫyq)	§4.4	(71–73)
	g) coordination and complex clauses	§4.5	(77–78)
	h) negative transport	§4.6.1	(79–80)
	i) metalinguistic negation	§4.6.2	(81)
=gen	negative enclitic used to pragmatically reinforce negation with monoclauses, quantifiers, and indefinite pronouns	§2.6	(30–33)
-cona	suffix meaning ‘without; lacking’ used in negative derivation	§3.3	(55)
wanǫja	negative lexicalization ‘it is nothing; there is none’	§2.5	(29)
-ni	suffix used to negate indefinite pronouns, quantifier and partitives	§3.2	(40–54)
-š, ǫš	adversative suffix and the emphatic pronoun ǫš ‘too’ indicate scope relationships	§4.1	(61–64)

Abbreviations

1	first person	INTS	intensifier
2	second person	LOC	locative
3	third person	MALE	male speaker
A	agent	N	noun
ABSTR	abstract	NEG	negation
ADV	adverb	NMLZ	nominalizer
ADVS	adversative	P	patient
BEN	benefactive	PASS	passive
CAUS	causative	PL	plural
COMP	complementizer	POSS	possessive
CONT	continuative	POT	potential
DECL	declarative	PRO	pronoun
DEM	demonstrative	Q	interrogative
DIM	diminutive	RECP	reciprocal
DST	discontinuous stem	REFL	reflexive
DUR	durative	RLN	relational
EMPH	emphatic	SBJ	subject
HAB	habitual	SG	singular
IMP	imperative	SPEC	specific
INDF	indefinite	STAT	stative
INS	instrumental	TR	transitive
INTR	intransitive	VB	verb

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Negation in Mohawk

Marianne Mithun

The patterns of negation in individual languages are often not unrelated to other structural characteristics. Mohawk, an Iroquoian language of northeastern North America, is polysynthetic, with a high proportion of verbs in spontaneous speech. This trait has implications for its inventory of negative constructions. Most of the kinds of non-verbal clauses mentioned in the Questionnaire for Describing the Negation System of a Language by Miestamo (2025) are expressed in verbal predication in Mohawk, and are accordingly negated like other verbal clauses, with a construction that has evolved via a Jespersen cycle. There are no non-finite clauses, so most dependent clauses are negated in the same way as main clauses. There is no nominal case, so negation does not affect case marking, and negation has no effect on determiners. There is no negative nominal derivation. The language does offer features of interest in the interplay between negation and tense, aspect, and modality.

Keywords: aspect, modality, Mohawk, polysynthesis, tense

1 The language

Mohawk (ISO: **moh**, Glottocode: **moha1258**) is an Iroquoian language indigenous to northeastern North America. It is currently spoken mainly in six communities in modern Canada and the United States, in Quebec, New York State, and Ontario. The number of first-language speakers is estimated at around 900, but there are more highly competent second-language speakers, and their numbers continue to grow. Dialectal variation across the six communities is minor: primarily the pronunciation of an affricate and a liquid, and certain lexicalizations. Morphological and syntactic structure are essentially the same in all. Just three lexical categories are distinguished in terms of their morphological structures: verbs, nouns, and particles.

Verbs can be relatively complex. All contain specification of the core arguments in a pronominal prefix, and apart from imperatives, an aspect suffix. They

may also contain additional prefixes, suffixes, and/or an incorporated noun stem. Examples are in (1–4).¹

- (1) Wahaté:ko'.
wa-ha-ate-ko-'
FACT-M.SG.AGT-MID-escape-PFV
'He escaped.'
- (2) Iostáthen.
io-astath-en
N.PAT-be.dry-STAT
'It is dry.'
- (3) Wahshakotiianerónhkwen'.
wa-hshakoti-ianeron-hkw-en-'
FACT-M.SG>3PL-feel.spooked-CAUS-BEN.APPL-PFV
'He spooked them.'
- (4) Ia'tesa'kharakè:tote'.
ia'-te-sa-'khar-a-ke'tot-e-'
TRL-DV-2SG.PAT-slip-LNK-peek-EP-STAT
'Your slip is showing.'

Most of the morphological structure is templatic. The verb template is in Table 1.

Table 1: Basic verb template

pre-pronominal	pronominal	reflexive	noun	verb	derivational	aspect	tense,
prefixes	prefix	middle	stem	stem	suffixes	suffixes	aspect

Several of these slots have multiple slots within them. The prepronominal prefix slots are detailed in Table 2.

There are nearly 60 pronominal prefixes: one paradigm for grammatical agents like the masculine singular *-ha-* 'he' in (1) 'he escaped', one for grammatical patients like the neuter *io-* 'it' in (2) 'it is dry', and one for transitive combinations,

¹Examples are given here in the community orthography. Most symbols are close to their IPA counterparts. Nasalized vowels are represented with digraphs <en> [ɛ̃] and <on> [ɔ̃], the palatal glide [j] with <i>, and glottal stop with an apostrophe <'> [ʔ]. Stress with high or rising tone is indicated with an acute accent <á>, and stress with falling tone with a grave accent <à>. Vowel length is indicated with a colon <:>.)

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Table 2: Prepronominal prefixes

partitive	translocative	factual	duplicative	future	repetitive
coincident				irrealis	cislocative
contrastive					
negative					

like the masculine singular acting on multiple third persons *-hshakoti-* ‘he>them’ in (3) ‘he spooked them’. Paradigm choice is semantically based but lexicalized with each verb stem. Verb stems fall into two categories: 1) event verbs, which have imperative, habitual, perfective, and stative forms, and 2) stative-only verbs, which have only stative forms. In the imperative, habitual, and perfective aspect forms of event verbs, grammatical agents are generally in control, and grammatical patients are not in control but significantly affected. In the stative aspect forms of these verbs, which often function as perfects, single participants of intransitives are identified with grammatical patient prefixes. In stative-only verbs, the pronominal paradigm often reflects a distinction between inherent and resultant states.

Multiple derivational suffixes can co-occur. These include reversives, inchoatives, causatives, instrumental, benefactive, and directional applicatives, a facilitative, an ambulative, a purposive, and distributives. Final post-aspectual verb suffixes can further distinguish progressives, remote pasts, and continuatives.

Morphological verbs can function as in other languages as predicates. They can also serve as clauses in themselves. All are finite. Ideas conveyed in non-finite clauses in many other languages are expressed in finite clauses in Mohawk, as illustrated in (5). In what follows, examples drawn from spontaneous speech are identified by the speakers and the communities from which they come: Kahnawà:ke Kw, Kanehsatà:ke Ks, Wáhta’ W, Ahkwesáhsne A, Ohswé:ken’ O, and Tyendinaga T. (Examples were recorded, transcribed, and analyzed by the author. Separate intonation units are represented on separate lines.)

(5) Finite clauses

Tahiatáhsawen’

ta-hi-at-ahsawen-’

CIS.FACT-M.DU.AGT-MID-start-PFV

‘They started for home,’

tontahiaateristíta’

t-onta-hi-ate-rist-ita’

DV-CIS.FACT-M.DU.AGT-MID-metal-follow.PFV

‘following the railroad tracks,’

tehotisterihenhatie’

te-hoti-sterih-en-hatie’

DV-M.DPL.PAT-be.hurrying-STAT-PROG

‘hurrying along.’ (Rita Konwatsi’tsaién:ni Phillips, Kw)

Morphological verbs can also function as referring expressions without further marking. Such constructions are lexicalized to varying degrees. The term for ‘bell’ in (6) is a morphological verb but is fully lexicalized as a referring expression.

(6) Verb as referring expression

iehwista’ékstha’

ie-hwist-a-’ek-st-ha’

FI.AGT-metal-LNK-strike-INS.APPL-HAB

‘one strikes metal with it’ = ‘bell’

Verbs far outnumber nouns in spontaneous speech, in part because they are often used to refer, in part because of the density of noun incorporation, as in (7), and in part because many ideas are simply conveyed with verbs that might be conveyed with nouns in some other languages, as in (8).

(7) Verb in use

Na’tkanien’kwatasehon’.

n-a’-t-ka-nien’kw-atase-hon-’

PAR-FACT-DV-N.AGT-snow-twirl-DISTR-PFV

‘There was a blizzard.’ (Josephine Kaieríthon Horne, Kw)

(8) Verbs in use

Teiotenonhianihton	tsi ni: tsi wahonteri:io'.
te-io-ate-nonhiani-ht-on	tsi ni: tsi wa-hon-ate-riio-'
DV-N-MID-frightened-CAUS-STAT	as so as FACT-M.PL.AGT-REFL-fight-PFV
it has caused fear	as so as they fought each other
'A fierce battle took place.' (Josephine Kaieríthon Horne, Kw)	

The internal structure of morphological nouns is less complex. Basic nouns contain a gender prefix or a possessive prefix, a noun stem, and a noun suffix, which adds no information beyond marking the word as a noun. Some examples are in (9) and (10).

(9) o'tá:ra'

o-'tar-a'

N-clay-NS

'clay, chimney, clan'

(10) akhwá:tsire'

ak-hwatsir-e-'

1SG.AL.POSS-family-EP-NS

'my family'

Noun stems may be simple roots, as in (9) and (10) above, or formal nominalizations, as in (11).

(11) kahiatónhsera'

ka-hiaton-hser-a'

N-write-NMLZ-NS

'book'

Morphological nouns are used only as referring expressions. Various enclitics may be added to words functioning as nominals, such as diminutives, distributives, and decessives (used when referring to deceased persons).

Particles are by definition monomorphemic, though they may be compounded. They serve a variety of syntactic and discourse functions. Some examples are in (12).

(12) ki' 'in fact'

tsi 'at, as, that'

tho 'there'

iaken HEARSAY

wáhi' TAG

kí:ken 'this'

The language could be characterized as head marking, since arguments are identified pronominally in every verb and there is no nominal case. There is no unmarked, syntactically-defined basic constituent order. All orders are pragmatically significant: apart from various discourse particles, constituents appear essentially in decreasing order of newsworthiness.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation is expressed by a negative particle *iah* near the beginning of the clause and a prefix on the verb. There are two negative constructions. The first consists of the negative particle *iah* and the negative verb prefix *te'*. This is used if there are no prepronominal prefixes in the verb, or only a repetitive or cislocative. An assertion and its negative counterpart with this construction are in (13) and (14).

- (13) Assertion
 Khe-nòn:we'-s.
 1SG>3-like-HAB
 'I like her.'
- (14) Standard negation
Iah te-khe-nòn:we'-s.
not NEG-1SG>3-like-HAB
 'I **don't** like her.'

The second negative construction consists of the negative particle and contrastive verb prefix *th-*, used if there are other prepronominal prefixes in the verb. An assertion and its negative counterpart with this second construction are in (15) and (16).

- (15) Assertion
 Iesakwéhtha'.
 ie-sa-akw-eht-ha'
 TRL-RPT-1EXCL.PL.AGT-stop.by-HAB
 'We go back there.'

- (16) Standard negation

Iáh thiesakwéhtha’**iah** th-ie-s-akw-eh-ta’**not** CNTR-TRL-RPT-1EXCL.PL.AGT-stop.by-HAB‘We **don’t** go back there.’

Outside of negative contexts, the contrastive marks surprising information. Both the negative and contrastive prefixes occur in various context-conditioned phonological forms.

For the affirmative and negative pairs discussed so far, the verb forms are the same, apart from the negative or contrastive prefix. There are several contexts in which they are not perfect counterparts, however.

Perfective aspect verbs co-occur with one of three prefixes: the factual, the future, or the irrealis (often called the optative or indefinite tense in the literature). Factual perfectives are usually interpreted as past tense. Their negative counterparts are not formed simply with the negative particle plus a prefix on the factual perfective verb, however. Rather than saying that something did not happen with a factual perfective (‘He did not see it’), speakers use a stative form of the verb, interpretable as a perfect (‘He is/was in the state of not having seen it.’). Past affirmative and negative counterparts are in (17) and (18).

- (17) Factual perfective

Wahatkáhto’.**wa**-ha-atkahto-’**FACT**-M.SG.AGT-see-**PFV**‘He **saw** it.’

- (18) Negative stative

Iáh tehotkáhthon**iah** te-ho-atkahth-**on****not** NEG-M.SG.PAT-see-**STAT**‘He **hasn’t** seen it.’

Future perfectives are used for future events. Their negative counterparts are also not formed simply with the negative particle plus a prefix on the future perfective verb. An irrealis perfective is used instead. Future affirmative and negative counterparts are in (19) and (20).

- (19) Future perfective

Enhatkáhtho’.

en-ha-tkáhtho-’

FUT-M.SG.AGT-see-PFV

‘He **will** see it.’

- (20) Negative irrealis

Iáh tha:hatkáhtho’.

iah th-aa-ha-atkahtho-’

not CNTR-IRR-M.SG.AGT-see-PFV

‘He **won’t** see it.’

Future perfectives are also used for recurring events in the past. In these uses as well, negative counterparts are inflected as irrealis. Describing her childhood, one speaker noted that her family would never begin to eat before her father said grace. She used a future perfective verb for ‘before my father would pray’, but an irrealis perfective for the negative ‘you could not’ in (21).

- (21) Customary past events

Iáh thaón:ton’

tahsatskà:kon’,

iah th-aa-w-aton-’

t-aa-hs-at-ska’nhon-’

not CNTR-IRR-N.AGT-be.possible-PFV DV-IRR-2SG.AGT-MID-dine-PFV

‘You couldn’t eat’

tsik **enhaterén:naién’**

ne

tsi=ok **en-ha-ate-renn-a-ien-’**

ne

at=only **FUT-M.SG.AGT-MID-song-LNK-lay-PFV ART**

rake’níha.

rake-’ni=ha

M.SG>1SG-be.father.to=DIM

‘before my father prayed.’ (Kanatí:res Grace Franks, W)

The factual and future prefixes never co-occur with negative prefixes.

Since irrealis perfectives are used for events with no specified time, they are somewhat less common in main clauses than factuais and futures, but they do occur, often translated ‘might, would, could, should’ etc. In (22) Mr. Deer was talking about a tornado.

(22) Irrealis

Aón:ton'

aa-w-aton-'

IRR-N.AGT-be.possible-PFV

'It **might** be possible,'

a:kì:ron'

a:kanatarihsión:ko'.

aa-k-ihron-'

aa-ka-natar-ihsionko-'

IRR-1SG.AGT-say-PFV IRR-N.AGT-town-destroy-PFV

'I'd say, that it **could** demolish the town.' (Joe Awenhráthon Deer, Kw)

In most contexts, irrealis perfectives are negated in the standard way, with the negative particle *iah* and a contrastive prefix, as in (23).

(23) Negative irrealis

Iah thaón:ton'

iah th-aa-w-aton-'

not CNTR-IRR-N.AGT-be.possible-PFV

'I couldn't'

a:kì:ron'

teiona'tarákhen.

aa-k-ihron-'

te-io-na'tar-akh-en

IRR-1SG.AGT-say-PFV DV-N.PAT-bread-be.twins-STAT

'say the bread has two lumps.' (Margaret Kahentawákhon McDonald, A)

But when irrealis perfectives are used with a deontic sense to mean 'should', they are negated with a different particle *tóhsa*, here glossed NEG, and no prefix on the verb, as in (24).

(24) Negative Perfective

Tówa' nòn:wa' **tóhsa'** aétewake'.towa' nonhwa' **tohsa'** aa-etewa-k-e-'

maybe now NEG IRR-1INCL.PL.AGT-eat-EP-PFV

'Maybe we shouldn't eat it.' (Sonny Edwards, A)

Further discussion of deontic uses of irrealis perfectives and their negation is in §2.4

This patterning is reminiscent of the A/Cat subtype of Miestamo's (2013) inventory of Asymmetric Standard Negation strategies, with structural differences between affirmative and negative counterparts based on verb categories such as tense, aspect, and modality.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Prohibitives, that is, negative imperatives, are formed with the second negative marker *tóhsa'*. Like *iah*, this particle occurs at or near the beginning of the clause. There is no negative or contrastive prefix on the verb, as can be seen in (25) and (26).

- (25) Command
 Ia'tsiá:ken'n!
 ia'-ts-iaken'n
 TRL-2SG.IMP-go.out
 'Go out!'
- (26) Basic prohibitive
 Tóhsa' ia'tsiá:ken'n.
 tohsa' ia'-ts-iaken'n
 NEG TRL-2SG.IMP.AGT-go.out
 'Don't go out!'

Basic imperatives differ from other verbs in lacking an aspect suffix, but they do contain a second person pronominal prefix that distinguishes singular, dual, and plural addressees. The form of the singular agent in indicatives is *-hs(e)-* with loss of the *h* word-initially or after a consonant. It thus most often appears as *s(e)-*. The indicative and imperative second person singular agent prefixes are descended from different forms, **(h)s-* and **-č-*. They have merged to *s(e)-* in most contexts, but the imperative never appears with an initial *h*, and before a high front vowel or glide it is still an affricate, spelled <ts>. In some dialects this is pronounced as an alveo-palatal [tʃ]; in others it is now pronounced as an alveolar affricate [ts], and a following glide has disappeared.

There is also a second prohibitive construction, with the future prefix *en-*. This is also negated with *tóhsa'*, as in (27).

- (27) Future Prohibitive
 Tóhsa' ienhsiá:ken'n(e').
 tohsa' i-en-hs-iaken'n-e-'
 NEG TRL-FUT-2SG.AGT-go.out-EP-PFV
 'Don't go out.'

For some speakers, the future prohibitives lack an aspect suffix, like basic imperatives, but for others, they end in a perfective suffix, like future perfective

statements. For all speakers, the form of the second person singular agent pronoun in this construction is that used with indicatives. Speakers find it difficult to articulate the precise difference in meaning and use between the basic and future prohibitives. Though a difference in time is often involved, speakers agree that forms with the future prefix are not simply delayed imperatives as might be expected, and they are not necessarily more polite.

Basic prohibitives are used for immediate situations, where there is no time for discussion. If a man is about to put a forkful of food into his mouth, but it is suddenly discovered that there might be something wrong with it, he might get the warning in (28).

- (28) Basic prohibitive

Tóhsa' í:sek!

tohsa' i-s-ek

NEG PROTH-2SG.IMP.AGT-eat

'Don't eat it!' (Á:nen Konwaroniá:wi Deer, Kw)

But if someone has made a cake for a bake sale, and the man comes in and spies it on the counter, he would be more likely to get the warning in (29).

- (29) Future prohibitive

Tóhsa' énhsek(e')!

tohsa' en-hs-ek-e-'

NEG FUT-2SG.AGT-eat-EP-PFV

'Don't eat it!' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

Speakers note that these future forms are more likely to be used for longer-term prohibitions: 'Don't plan to ...'. Kanáhstatsi Nancy Howard suggests that the future prohibitive might imply a warning: 'You'd better not ...', as in (30).

- (30) Future prohibitive

Tohsa' wakerónhak ienhsia:ken'n(e').

tohsa' wake-ron-hak i-en-hs-iaken'n-e-'

NEG 1SG.PAT-warn-CONT TRL-FUT-2SG.AGT-go.out-EP-PFV

'Don't you dare go out!' (Kanáhstatsi Nancy Howard, Ks)

Addressees might expect a consequence if they went ahead and acted, and would be likely to ask for a reason. The context in (31) is typical.

(31) Future prohibitive

Tóhsa' énhsek(e') tanon' ensanonhwákten!
tohsa' en-hs-ek-e-' tanon' en-sa-nonhwakt-en-'
 NEG FUT-2SG.AGT-eat-EP-PFV and FUT-2SG.PAT-sick-BEN.APPL-PFV
 'Don't eat it or you'll get sick.' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

The basic prohibitive construction thus falls into the second prohibitive type defined by *van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev) 2013*, with an imperative verb form but a different negative particle than that used in standard negation. The future prohibitive falls into their fourth type, with a future tense verb either with no aspect suffix like imperatives, or a perfective suffix like other future verbs, and the different negative particle.

Hortatives are formed like commands, with a first person inclusive dual or inclusive plural pronominal prefix and no aspect suffix, as in (32).

(32) Basic hortative

Thó tetewá:ta'n.
 tho te-tewa-t-a'n
 there DV-1INCL.PL.AGT-be.standing-INCH
 'Let's stand there.'

Negative hortatives are formed in the same two ways as prohibitives. Basic negative hortatives consist of the second negative particle and a basic imperative verb, as in (33).

(33) Basic negative hortative

Tóhsa' thó tetewá:ta'n.
tohsa' tho te-tewa-t-a'n
 NEG there DV-1INCL.PL.AGT-be standing-INCH
 'Let's not stand there.' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

Future negative hortatives consist of the second negative particle and a future tense verb, with or without a perfective aspect suffix, depending on the speaker. As with commands, listeners may expect a reason, as in (34).

(34) Negative future hortative

Tóhsa' thó tentewá:ta'n(e').
tohsa' tho t-en-tewa-t-a'n-e-'
 NEG there DV-FUT-1INCL.PL-stand-INCH-EP-PFV
 'Let's not stand there.'

Ratikwen'tsheráhrhohs.
 rati-kwen'tsher-a-rho-hs
 M.PL.AGT-paint-LNK-coat-HAB
 'They're painting.' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

Negative questions and answers are formed with the standard negation construction. Polar questions begin with the questioned element, which is the constituent in focus, in initial position, followed by the question particle *ken*, as in (35).

- (35) Polar question
 Iowísto **ken?**
 io-wisto **ken**
 N.PAT-be.cold.STAT **Q**
 'Is it cold?'

Their negative counterparts include the basic negative particle *iah* and a negative or contrastive prefix on the verb, as in (36).

- (36) Negative polar question
Iáh ken teiowísto?
iah ken te-io-wisto
not Q NEG-N.PAT-be.cold
 'Isn't it cold?'

Negative questions convey a positive presupposition. Answers address the proposition, not the presupposition. The exchange in (37) was prompted when Mrs. Curotte noticed that her daughter was about to leave without a jacket.

- (37) Question and answer
- GOC: **Iáh ken teiowísto** ne átste?
 iáh ken te-io-wísto ne átste
 not Q NEG-N.PAT-be.cold.STAT ART outdoors
 'Isn't it cold outside?' (Grace Ohsontí:io Curotte, Kw)
- AC: **Hén:**, iowísto.
 yes it.is.cold
 'Yes, it's cold.' (Audrey Curotte, Kw)

A negative question with a negative response is in (38).

(38) Question and answer

- CKB: **Iáh ken** *tehsheienté:ri?*
iah ken *te-hshe-ienteri*
not Q NEG-2SG>FI-know.STAT
'Don't you know her?' (Charlotte Kaherákwas Bush, Kw)
- AKJ: **Iáh. Iáh** *tekheienté:ri.*
iah iah *te-khe-ienteri*
no not NEG-1SG>FI-know.STAT
'No. I don't know her.' (Annette Kaia'táhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

Answers to negative questions are discussed further in §3.1.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

There is no adjective category in Mohawk. Most meanings expressed by adjectives in other languages are expressed by verbs in Iroquoian languages. To a certain extent, stative verbs denoting permanent qualities occur with grammatical agent prefixes, and those denoting temporary situations occur with grammatical patient prefixes, but paradigm choice is lexicalized with each verb. The two are negated with the standard construction, consisting of the negative particle *iah* and either the negative *te*'- or the contrastive *th*- prefix on the verb. A description and its negative counterpart are in (39) and (40).

(39) Description

Wahétken.
w-ahetk-en
N.AGT-be.bad-STAT
'It was terrible.'

(40) Negative description

Iáh tewahétken.
iah te-w-ahetk-en
not NEG-N.AGT-be.bad-STAT
'It wasn't terrible.' (Kanatí:res Grace Franks, W)

There may or may not be an incorporated noun evoking the entity described. Examples (41) and (42) contain the incorporated noun stem *-hsenn-* 'name'.

- (41) Description with incorporated noun
 Kahsenní:io.
 ka-hsenn-iio
 N-name-be.nice.STAT
 ‘It’s a nice name.’ (Dorris Montour, Kw)

- (42) Negative description
Iáh tekahsenní:io.
iah te-ka-hsenn-iio
not NEG-N-name-be.nice.STAT
 ‘It’s **not** a nice name.’

Location is also predicated with verbs and negated like other verbs, as in (43) and (44).

- (43) Locative predication
 Shé:kon tkanónhsote’.
 shekon t-ka-nonhs-ot-e-’
 still CIS-N.AGT-house-stand-EP-STAT
 ‘The house is still there.’ (Joe Awenhráthon Deer, Kw)

- (44) Negative locative predication
Iah áro’k tekonti:teron’ ne kítkit.
iah aro’k te-kont-i’teron’ ne kitkit
not yet NEG-Z.PL.AGT-dwell-STAT ART chicken
 ‘The chickens weren’t in there yet.’ (Ima Johnson, O)

Existence is similarly predicated with verbs and negated accordingly, as in (45) and (46).

- (45) Existential predication
 Tóhka’s ki’ nikahéhtaien’ thí:ken.
 tohkara’=se’s ki’ ni-ka-heht-a-ien’ thiken
 several=formerly in.fact PAR-N.AGT-garden-LNK-lie-STAT that
 ‘There were several gardens there.’ (Joe Awenhráthon Deer, Kw)

- (46) Negative existential predication
Iáh kwi’ ne’ lektic tekahahseró:tahkwe’ ne: thò:ne.
iah ki’+wahi’ ne:’ lektic te-ka-hahser-ot-ahkwe’ ne: thohne
not in.fact+TAG that electric NEG-N-light-stand-PST that there
 ‘There were **no** electric lights at that time.’ (Josie Jacobs Day, Kw)

Possession is also predicated with verbs and negated with the standard construction. The most common verb of possession is *-ien*, which is also the verb to be sitting or lying. An example of basic predicative possession is in (47), and of negative predicative possession in (48).

- (47) Predicative possession: Margaret Kahentawákhon McDonald, A

Nia'té:kon rotí:ien'.
n-ia'-te-k-on roti-ien'-
PAR-TRL-DV-N-amount.STAT M.DPL.PAT-have-STAT
'They have a lot of things.'

- (48) Negated predicative possession: John Maracle, O

láh tehó:ien-’ ne tewatokwáhtha’.
iáh te-hó:ien-’ ne te-w-atokw-áht-ha’
not NEG-M.SG.PAT-have-STAT ART DV-N.AGT-scattered-CAUS-HAB
‘He **didn’t** have a spreader.’

As noted earlier, many words used as referring expressions are morphological verbs. Most kinship terms originated as verbs, like that in (49). When they predicate a relationship, they are negated in the standard way, as in (50).

- (49) Predicating a relationship

Shakotere'okòn:'a nè:'e.
shako-aterè'=okon'=a ne'e
M.SG>3DPL-have.as.grandchild=DISTR=DIM it.is
'He has them as grandchildren' = 'He is their grandfather.'

- (50) Negation of a relationship

láh tehshakotere'okon:'a.
 iah te-hshako-ater='okon'=a
 not NEG-M.SG>3DPL-have.as.grandchild=DISTR=DIM
 'He is **not** their grandfather.' (He's just a friend.)

Nominal possessive constructions distinguish alienable and inalienable possession, but since these kinship terms are not morphological nouns, there is no comparable distinction. When such verbs function as predicates, a demonstrative is used as in (51), or the verb *í:ken* 'it is' as in (52). In their negative counterparts, the verb 'be' is negated in standard way: *iah tè:ken* 'it is not', as in (53).

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

All Mohawk verbs are finite. Most dependent clauses are negated in the same way as independent sentences, with the particle *iah* plus a negative or contrastive prefix on the predicate, as in (57).

(57) Negative complement

Wa'onkhró:ri' [tsi iáh tehonhrónkha'].
 wa'-onk-hrori-' tsi iah te-hon-aronk-ha'
 FACT-FI>1SG-tell-PFV that **not** NEG-M.PL.AGT-understand.a.language-HAB
 'They told me that they **don't** understand.' (Susie Lynch, T)

Irrealis verbs frequently occur in dependent clauses, as in (58).

(58) Irrealis complement

Rotina'khwèn:'en,
 roti-na'khwen-'-en
 M.PL.PAT-be.angry-INCH-STAT
 'They were angry'
 tsi iah tháon:ton',
 tsi iah th-aa-w-aton-'
 that **not** CNTR-IRR-N.AGT-be.possible-PFV
 'that they **could not**'
 iahatiiá:ken'ne'.
 i-aa-hati-iaken'n-e-'
 TRL-IRR-M.PL.AGT-go.out-EP-PFV
 'go out.' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

But as in main clauses, if there is a deontic sense, the second negative particle *tóhsa'* is used, with no prefix on the verb, as in (59).

(59) Negative deontic irrealis

Ionkwaterièn:tare'
 ionkwa-ate-rien'tar-e-'
 1PL.PAT-MID-know-EP-STAT
 'We knew'
tóhsa' thó niaiákwe'.
tóhsa' tho ni-aa-iakwa-e-'
 NEG there PAR-IRR-1EXCL.PL.AGT-go-PFV
 'that we were **not** supposed to go there.' (Watshenní:ne' Sawyer, Ks)

The same construction is used in negative purpose clauses ‘so that not’, ‘in order that not’, as in (60).

(60) Negative purpose

É:ren kwi’ à:rehte’ kèn:tho ne
 eren ki’+wahi’ aa-hr-eh-t-e-’ ken’tho ne
 away in.fact+TAG IRR-M.SG.AGT-move-EP-PFV here ART

Kahnawà:ke
 ka-hnaw-a’ke
 N-rapids-place

‘He **should** move away from here, Kahnawake,’

tóhsa’ iahshonkwakarón:ni’

tohsa’ i-aa-hshonkwa-kar-onni-’.

NEG TRL-IRR-M.SG>1PL-story-make-PFV

‘so that he doesn’t cause us problems.’ (Joe Awenhráthon Deer, Kw)

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

No negative lexicalizations have been found in the data so far.

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Positive and negative answers to polar questions were seen in §2.2. Simple negative particles are also used on their own: *Hén:*, *Én:*, or *Enhén:* ‘Yes’ and *Iáh* ‘No’ or *Iáhten* ‘Absolutely not’. Examples can be seen in the exchanges in (61) and (62).

(61) Positive response

JJD: ‘We had half an hour to play.’ (Josie Jacobs Day, Kw)

AKJ: Né: ken ne: kon’tátie’?

it.is Q it.is day

‘You mean in a day?’ (Annette Kaia’titáhkhe’ Jacobs, Kw)

JJD: Én:, en:.

‘Yes, yes.’ (Josie Jacobs Day, Kw)

(62) Negative response

‘She asked me, “Is Terè:s coming?”’

Wa’kì:ron’ “Iáh”.

wa’-k-ihron-’ iáh

FACT-2SG.AGT-say-PFV **no**

‘I said, “No.”’ (Charlotte Kaherákwas Bush Provencher, Kw)

The material questioned is often repeated, as in (63) and (64).

(63) Positive response

CKB: Sè:iahre’ ken ní:se’?

s-ehiahr-e-’ ken ne=ise’

2SG.AGT-remember-EP-STAT Q ART=2

‘Do you remember?’ (Charlotte Kaherákwas Bush, Kw)

DMM: Hén:, kè:iahre’

hen: k-ehiahr-e-’

yes 1SG.AGT-remember-EP-STAT

‘Yes, I remember.’ (Charlotte Kaherákwas Bush, Dorris Montour, Kw)

(64) Negative response

CKB: Iáh ken tehsheienté:ri?

iah ken te-hshe-ienteri

not Q NEG-2SG>F-know.STAT

‘Don’t you know her?’ (Charlotte Kaherákwas Bush, Kw)

AKJ: Iáh. Iáh tekheienté:ri.

iah iah te-khe-ienteri

no not NEG-1SG>F-know.STAT

‘No. I don’t know her.’ (Annette Kaia’titáhkhe’ Jacobs, Kw)

As noted earlier, negative responses are the same with positive and negative questions. Examples of affirmative and negative responses are in (65).

(65) Negative response to positive question

KHN: Satkáhthon ken ne ní:io?
 sa-at-kahttho-on ken ne ní-io-ht
 2SG.PAT-MID-see-STAT Q ART PAR-N.PAT-be.so
 ‘Have you seen anything like that?’ (Kanerahtenhá:wi Hilda
 Nicholas, Ks)

SMP: Né: ken ne: kaná:takon?
 ne’e ken ne’e ka-nat-a-kon
 it.is Q it.is N-town-LNK-place.inside
 ‘You mean in the village?’ (Sha’tekenhá:te Marion Patton Philips
 Kw)

KHN: Enhén:.
 ‘Yes.’ (Kanerahtenhá:wi Hilda Nicholas, Ks)

SMP: Jáhten.
 ‘No.’ (Sha’tekenhá:te Marion Patton Philips Kw)

The same particles are used as responses to tag questions, as in (66) and (67).

(66) Positive response to tag

JTD: Nè:’e tehonta’enhra:ken
 ne’e te-hon-at-a’enhra-nek-en
 it.is DV-M.PL.PAT-MID-fence-LNK-be.side.by.side-STAT
 wáhe’.
 wahe’
 TAG
 ‘They were neighbors, weren’t they.’ (Joe Tiorhakwén:te’
 Dove, Kw)

DMM, JKH: Én:.
 ‘Yes.’ (Dorris Montour, Josie Horne, Kw)

(67) Negative response

AKJ: É:so' ki' ní:se' tehsahthénno'ks, wáhe'.
eso' ki' ne=ise' te-hs-ahthenno-'k-s wahe'
much in.fact ART=2 DV-2SG.AGT-ball-hit-HAB TAG
'You play [golf] a lot, don't you.' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

CKB: Ia::
iah
'No.' (Charlotte Kaherákwahs Bush, Kw)

AKJ: A:, iáh ken?
a: no q
'Oh, no?' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

CKB: Ia: iáh ó:nen.
iah iah ó:nen
no NEG now
'No, not anymore.' (Charlotte Kaherákwahs Bush, Kw)

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Indefinite pronouns are negated with the standard construction, consisting of an initial negative particle, an indefinite word, and a negative or contrastive prefix on the predicate if the particle is *iah*, or no prefix if the particle is *tóhsa*'. In most cases the indefinite word is the same as in non-negatives. The equivalent of 'no one' is 'not anyone, not someone, not who'. The interrogative *ónhka*' 'who' can be seen in (68), the indefinite *ónka'*'k' 'someone, anyone' in (69) and (70), and the negative *iah ónhka*' 'no one', literally 'not anyone', in (70).

(68) Indefinite 'who'

Ónhka' thí:ken teionhsénthohs?
onhka' thiken te-ie-ahsentho-hs
who that DV-FL.AGT-cry-HAB
'Who is that crying?' (Josephine Kaieríthon Horne, Kw)

- (69) Indefinite ‘anyone’

Ónhka’k ken, sheienté:ri ne kèn:’en?

onhka’=k ken she-ienteri ne ken’en

anyone=just Q 2SG.AGT>FI-know.STAT ART here

‘Do you know **anybody** here?’ (Kanerahthenhá:wi Hilda Nicholas, Ks)

- (70) Indefinite ‘someone’ and ‘no one’

Tóka’ ensathón:te’ne’ ónhka’k

toka’ en-sa-at-honte’n-e-’ onhka’=ok

if FUT-2SG.PAT-MID-hear-EP-PFV someone=just

taieken’to’ókhon’

t-aa-ie-ken’to’ok-hon

DV-IRR-FL.AGT-knock-DISTR

‘If you hear **someone** knocking,’

tánon’ iáh ónhka’ té:ien’s,

tanon’ iah onhka’ te’-ie-e-’s

and not anyone NEG-FL.SG-go-STAT.DISTR

‘and **no one** is there,’

né: kén:ton’ tsi ónhka’k eniaiheie’.

ne’e ka-iton-’ tsi onhka’=ok en-ia-ihei-e-’

that N.AGT-mean-STAT that someone=just FUT-FI-die-EP-PFV

‘**someone** will die.’ (Mary Wathahí:ne’ Nicholas, Ks)

The term for ‘nothing’ is based on an indefinite pronoun *othé:nen* ‘something’ or shorter form *thé:nen*, used in non-negative statements but not questions. The basic indefinite *othé:nen* ‘something’ is in (71) and its negative counterpart *iah thé:nen* ‘nothing’ in (72).

- (71) Indefinite ‘something, anything’

Wa’kawkwé:ni’ othé:nen’.

wa’-k-atkweni-’ othenen’

FACT-1SG.AGT-win-PFV something

‘I won **something**.’ (Vina Loft, O)

- (72) Negated indefinite ‘nothing’
Tóhsa’ thé:nen enhsi:ron.
tohsa’ othenen’ en-hs-ihron
NEG **something** FUT-2SG.AGT-say
‘Don’t say **anything**.’ (Watshenní:ne’ Sawyer, Kw)

Temporal indefinites show the same patterns, as in (73) and (74).

- (73) Temporal indefinite ‘ever’
Nowén:ton satkáhthon?
nowenton sa-at-kahtho-on
ever 2SG.PAT-MID-see-STAT
‘Have you **ever** seen it?’ (Annette Kaia’titáhkhe’ Jacobs, Kw)

- (74) Negated indefinite ‘never’
Iáh nowén:ton’ teionkwahní:non kanà:taro.
iah nowenton’ te-ionkwa-hninon-on ka-na’tar-o-k
not ever NEG-1PL.PAT-buy-STAT N-bread-be.in.water-CONT
‘We **never** bought bread.’ (Watshenní:ne’ Sawyer, Kw)

Different forms are used for indefinite and negative locatives, however, as in (75–77).

- (75) Locative question ‘where’
Ka’ nón:we nontahsitsiénhawe’?
ka’ nonwe n-onta-hs-itsi-enhaw-e-’
what place PAR-CIS.FACT-2SG.AGT-fish-carry-EP-PFV
‘Where did you get the fish?’ (Dorothy Karihwénhawe’ Lazore, A)
- (76) Indefinite locative ‘somewhere’
Ka’ tsi nón:we kí:ken Kanó:no karístatsi thotiió’t-e-hkwe’.
ka’ tsi nonwe kiken Kanono ka-ristatsi t-hoti-io’t-e-hkwe’
some at place this NYC N-metal CIS-M.PL.PAT-work-HAB-PST
‘They were working **somewhere** in New York City.’ (Rita Konwatsi’tsaién:ni Phillips, Kw)

- (77) Negative indefinite ‘anywhere’

Iáh káneka othé: te:.

iah kaneka othenen te'-ka-i

not anywhere anything NEG-N.AGT-be.STAT

‘There wasn’t anything **anywhere**.’ (Minnie Hill, O)

Multiple constituents may be negated within the clause, as in (77).

Degree terms and quantifiers typically appear at or near the beginning of the clause, as in (78)

- (78) Positive ‘too’

Sótsi tiótkon teionkwaweienharà:’on

so’tsi tiótkon te-ionkwa-weienhara’-on

too always DV-1PL.PAT-be.busy-STAT

‘We’re always **too** busy.’ (Josephine Kaieríthon Horne, Kw)

They are negated in the same way as other constituents. A negative particle appears at or near the beginning of the clause, the degree term soon follows, and if the particle is *iah*, the verbal predicate carries a negative or contrastive prefix, as in (79).

- (79) Quantifier negation ‘not too’

Iáh kwí: kwáh sótsi tewenhniserí:io’s.

iah ki’=wahi’ kwah so’tsi te-w-enhniser-iio-’s

not in.fact-TAG quite too NEG-N.SG.AGT-day-be.good-STAT.DISTR

‘As you know, the weather wasn’t **too** good.’ (Joe Awenhráthen Deer, Kw)

If the particle is *tóhsa*’ there is no prefix, as in (80).

- (80) Quantifier negation ‘not too’

‘The government said we should move so that’

tóhsa’ sò:tsi akentiohkowanénhake’ ne Kanehsatà:ke.

tohsa’ so’tsi aa-ka-itiohkw-owan-en-hak-e-’ ne Kanehsatà:ke

NEG too IRR-N-group-be.big-STAT-CONT-EP-PFV ART NAME

‘there would **not be too** many people in Kanehsatà:ke.’ (Kanatí:res Grace Franks, W)

The same construction is used for *é:so*’ ‘much, many, a lot’, as can be seen in (81) and (82).

- (81) Positive ‘much’

É:so’ ki:, teionkwatstikáhwhén.

eso’ kiken te-ionkwa-at-stikawh-en

much this DV-1PL.PAT-MID-travel-STAT

‘We traveled a lot.’ (Sha’tekenhátie’ Marion Phillips, Kw)

- (82) Negative ‘not much’

Iáh é:so’ átste thie:ke’s.

iah eso’ atste th-ie-k-e-’s

not much out CNTR-TRL-1SG.AGT-go-HAB

‘I don’t go out **much**.’ (Susie Lynch, T)

And the same construction is also used for *akwé:kon* ‘all’, often shortened to *akwé:*, as in (83) and (84).

- (83) Positive ‘all’

Akwé:kon ráonha rohiá:ton.

akwekon raonha ro-hiaton

all M.SG M.SG.PAT-write-STAT

‘He had written **all** of it, everything.’ (Lazarus Jacob, Ks)

- (84) Negative ‘not all’

Iáh akwé: tekheinte:ri.

iah akwekon te-khe-ienteri

not all NEG-1SG>3PL-know-STAT

‘I don’t know them **all**.’ (Susie Lynch, T)

As a focus of contrast, the quantifier may be highlighted prosodically. Pitch traces of the sentences in (85) and (86) can be seen in Figures 1 and 2.

- (85) Quantifier negation ‘not all’

Iah. Iáh akwé:kon tekerihwaienté:ri.

iah iah akwekon te-ke-rihw-a-ienteri

no **not all** NEG-1SG.AGT-matter-LNK-know-STAT

‘No. I don’t know **everything** that went on.’ (Joe Awenhráthen Deer, Kw)

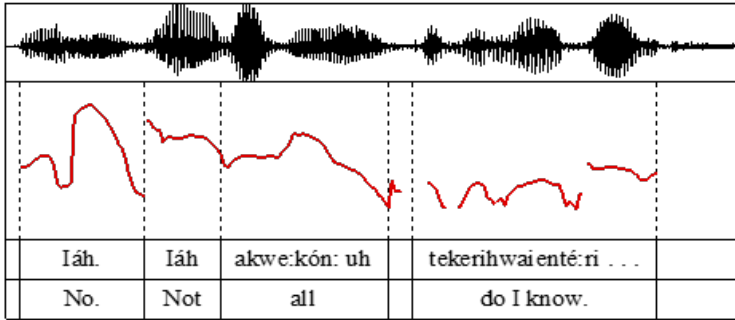


Figure 1: Quantifier negation

- (86) Quantifier negation ‘not one’
 Kwah iáh ne skaià:ta
 kwah iah ne s-ka-ia’t-at
 even not ART RPT-N-body-be.one
 teionkwentsiaientà:’on.
 te-ionkwa-itsi-a-ient-a’-on
 NEG-1PL.PAT-fish-LNK-have-INCH-STAT
 ‘We didn’t even catch one fish.’ (Sonny Edwards, A)

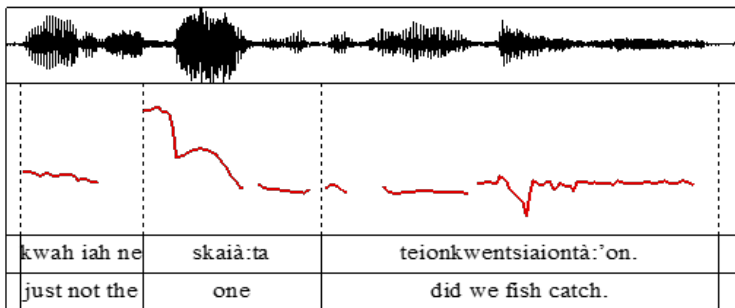


Figure 2: Quantifier negation

Neutral sentences generally show a continuous decline in pitch.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

As noted earlier, there is no nominal case marking in Mohawk. There are also no particles or derivational affixes with meanings comparable to English *without*

or *-less*, In many situations, ideas expressed with nominals in other languages are expressed with verbs. To say something comparable to English *You shouldn't go out without a coat*, a Mohawk speaker would be likely to say something quite different, as in (87).

- (87) Absence
 Iáh thiahsíá:ken'ne'
 iah th-i-aa-hs-iaken'n-e-'
 not CNTR-TRL-IRR-2SG.A-go.out-EP-PFV
 not should you go out
 'Don't go out'

 tóka' iáh thahsatià:tawi'te'!
 toka' iah th-aa-hs-at-ia't-a-wi-'t-e-'
 if not CNTR-IRR-2SG.AGT-MID-body-LNK-encircled-CAUS-EP-PFV
 if not would you put your coat on
 'if you don't put your coat on!' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

3.4 Other negative constructions

Negation of sentence fragments, which lack a verbal predicate, is accomplished with just a negative particle, as in (88).

- (88) Negated fragment
 a. Iáh kwi' thaón:ton'
 iah ki' wahi' th-aa-w-aton-'
 not in.fact TAG CNTR-IRR-N-be.possible-PFV

 aiontá:ti' Tiorhèn:sha ne
 aa-io-atati-' t-io-rhen'-s-ha ne
 IRR-FI.AGT-speak-PFV CIS-N-dawn-HAB-CHAR ART
 kanónhskon.
 ka-nonhs-kon
 n-house-interior
 'You couldn't speak English in the house.'
 b. Iáh ni' ne O'seronni'kéha'.
 iah oni' ne o-a'ser-onni-'keha'
 not also ART N-axe-make-CHAR
 'Not French either.' (Grace Franks, W)

In (89) the speaker was describing how to make cornbread. (The entire discussion was in Mohawk.)

(89) Negated fragments

- a. Enhsera' akehrà:ke,
 en-hs-er-a' akehr-a'ke
 FUT-2SG.AGT-be.in-INCH.PFV dish-place
 othe:sera',
 o-the'ser-a'
 N-flour-NS
 'You'll put the flour into the bowl.'
- b. Ó:nenste' othè:sera',
 o-nenst-e' o-the'ser-a'
 corn flour
 'Cornmeal.'
- c. Iáh onèn:'a.
 iah o-nen'-a'
 not N-wheat-NS
 'Not wheat flour.'
- d. Onekwénhtara' nikasahe'tò:ten
 o-nekwenhtar-a' ni-ka-sahe't-o't-en
 N-red-NS PAR-N-bean-be.a.kind.of-STAT
 téhnsieste'.
 t-en-hs-iest-e'
 DV-FUT-2SG.AGT-mix-PFV
 'You'll add red beans.'
- e. Iáh nohné:ka' [...]
 iah ne o-hnek-a'
 not ART N-liquid-NS
 'Not the liquid.' [...]

- f. Teiohnekóntie's entisá:ti
 te-io-hnek-ontie'-s en-ti-s-ati-'
 DV-N-liquid-throw-STAT.DISTR FUT-CIS-2SG.PAT-throw-PFV
 tenhsawénrie',
 t-en-hs-awenrie-'
 DV-FUT-2SG.AGT-mix-PFV
 'You'll mix in boiling water,'
- g. **tóhsa'** é:so' teiohnekóntie's
tohsa' eso' te-io-hnek-ontie'-s
 NEG much DV-N.PAT-liquid-throw-STAT.DISTR
 'not too much boiling water.' (Watshenní:ne' Sawyer, Kw)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Issues of scope in the negation of indefinite and quantifier constituents were discussed in §3.2. Negation of other constituents is similar, with the constituent to be negated in initial focus position preceded by the negative particle *iáh* plus a negative prefix *te'*- or contrastive prefix *th-* on the predicate, or the particle *tóhsa'* without a prefix on the verb.

Negation of a demonstrative can be seen in (90).

(90) Negated demonstrative

'They took the case to Europe.'

Thanon' ne:' rakhsotkén,

thanon' ne:' rak-hsot=kenha'

and that M.SG>1SG-be.grandparent.to=DEC

'But my grandfather,'

iáh né:' thiehawé.non.

iah ne:' th-ie-haw-e-n-on

not that.one CNTR-TRL-M.SG.PAT-go-DIR.APPL-STAT

'him, he didn't go.' (Lazarus Jacob, Ks)

The contrast is often heightened prosodically, as can be seen in Figure 3.

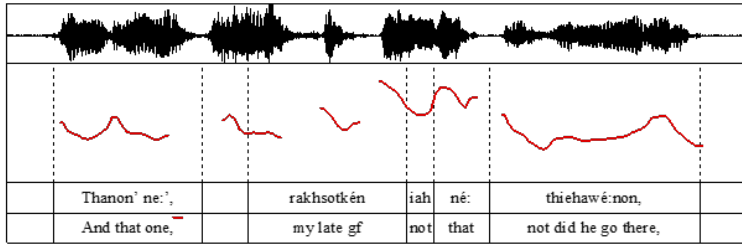


Figure 3: Constituent negation

Though all core participants are identified by pronominal prefixes in every verb, independent pronouns can be added for contrast. These can be negated in the same way, with the usual negative constructions, as in (91).

(91) Negated pronoun

Tóka' ní:se' enhsaté:ko',
 toka' ne=ise' en-hs-ateko-'
 maybe ART=2 FUT-2SG.AGT-escape-PFV
 'Maybe **you**'ll run away,'

íáh ki' ní: tha:katé:ko'.
 iah ki' ne=i'i th-aa-k-ateko-'
 not actually ART=1 CNTR-IRR-1SG.AGT-escape-PFV
 'but I won't run away.' (Lazarus Jacob, Ks)

Adverbial particles can also be negated in the same ways, with the negated element appearing immediately after or soon after the negative particle, as in (92).

(92) Negated adverbial constituent

Íáh ki' óksa'k teiakawenhé:ion.
 iah ki' óksa'k te-iakaw-enhei-on
 not actually immediately NEG-F.SG.PAT-die-STAT
 'She didn't actually die **right away**.' (Josie Jacobs Day, Kw)

It is clear that this speaker was negating the adverbial 'right away' in (92); the woman in question did die. Again the contrast was heightened prosodically, as can be seen in the pitch trace in Figure 4.

In (93) the adverbial 'once' is negated.

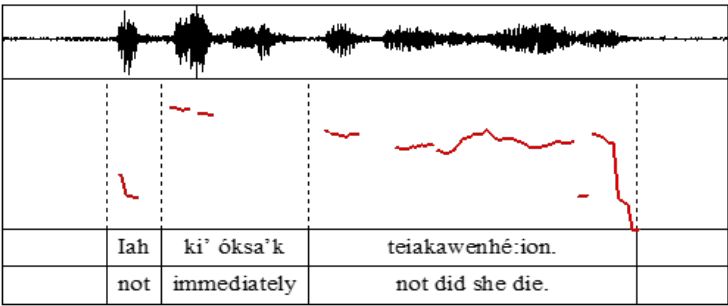


Figure 4: Constituent negation

- (93) Negated constituent ‘not once’
láh nen nénska tha'tetewaké:non.
iah onen ne=enska tha'-te-te-wak-e-n-on
not then ART=one CNTR-DV-CIS-1SG.PAT-go-DIR.APPL-STAT
‘Not **once** did I come back.’
- láh ni' ne énska tekhé:kén né:--
iah ohni' ne enska te-khe-ken ne
not also ART one NEG-1SG>3PL-see.STAT ART
‘And not **once** did I see’
- akhwá:tsíre', thó nikari:wes.
ak-hwatsir-e' tho ni-ka-rihw-es
1SG.AL.POSS-family-EP-NS there PAR-N.AGT-matter-be.long.STAT
‘my family, that whole time.’ (Sha'tenkenhatie' Phillips, Kw)

The heightened prosody on the negated constituents *énska* ‘once’ can be seen in the pitch trace in Figure 5.

4.2 Negative polarity

There are few negative polarity items. One is the particle *áre'kho*, which normally occurs in negative constructions to mean ‘not yet’. It is sometimes pronounced *áro'khe* and is often shortened to *áro'k*. In fast speech, the negative particle *iah*, which occurs at or near the beginning of the clause, can be barely audible or even omitted.

Asked about the name of her baby, a mother responded with the answer in (94).

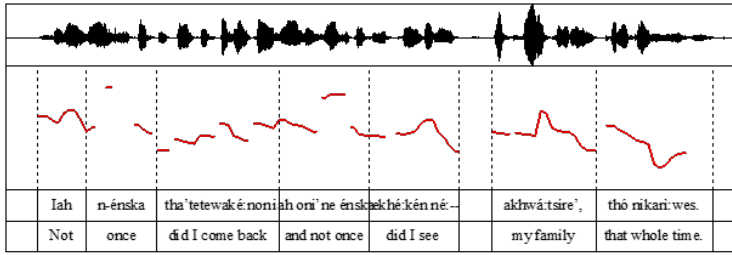


Figure 5: Constituent negation

- (94) Negative polarity ‘not yet’

Iah ki' áre'kho teiakohsén:naién'.

iah ki' are'kho te-iako-hsenn-a-ien'-

not actually yet NEG-F.SG.PAT-name-LNK-have-STAT

‘She actually doesn’t have a name yet.’ (Lazarus Jacob, Ks)

The particle can co-occur with other negated items, as in (95).

- (95) Negative polarity ‘not yet’

Iah ónhka' áro'k thieiakokwáthon

iah onhka' aro'khe th-ie-iako-kwatho-on

not who yet CNTR-TRL-FI.PAT-stop.by-STAT

‘No one has stopped by there yet’

naiontken'sè:ra'.

n-a-ie-at-ken'se-hra'-

PAR-IRR-FI.AGT-MID-examine-PURP-PFV

‘to check it out.’ (Margaret Kahentawákhon McDonald, A)

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation”

As noted earlier, there is no nominal case in Mohawk, and the article does not distinguish definiteness.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Alongside the regular negative particle *iah* ‘no, not’ is a more emphatic *iáhten*, which is used both as a simple answer ‘absolutely not’ and as a sentential negative, as in (96) and (97). The source of the element *ten* is unclear.

(96) Emphatic negative

‘Would you like a ride?’

Iáhten, tewaksterihénhsere’.

iahten te-wak-sterihen-hser-e’

no DV-1SG.PAT-be.hurried-PURP-STAT

‘**Certainly not**, I’m in a hurry.’ (Dorothy Karihwénhawe’ Lazore, A)

(97) Emphatic Negative

Iahten thaón:ton’ éh náhsiere’.

iahten th-aa-w-aton-’ eh n-aa-hs-ier-e-’

not CNTR-IRR-N-be.possible-PFV that PAR-IRR-2SG.AGT-do-EP-PFV

‘You **absolutely cannot** do that.’ (Minnie Hill, O)

Negation can also be reinforced with the particle *thé*: a short form of *othé:nen* ‘anything’, as in (98).

(98) Emphatic negative

Iáh ki’ ne: ónhte’ **thé**:

iah ki’ ne’e onhte’ **the**:

not actually it.is perhaps **anything**

thaesewatkarón:ni’.

th-aa-esewa-at-kar-onni-’

CNTR-IRR-2PL-MID-story-make-PFV

‘It wouldn’t be any loss **at all** to you.’ (Dorothy Karihwénhawe’ Lazore, A.)

4.5 Negation, coordination, and complex clauses

There are no special forms for ‘neither ... nor’. Contrastive and corrective negation can be accomplished by simply supplying the alternative, as in (99).

(99) Contrast

AKJ: Ahskwà:ke ken roió'tehkwe' thi:?
 ahskw-a'-ke ken ro-io't-e-hkwe' thiken
 bridge-NS-place Q M.SG.PAT-work-HAB-PST this
 'Did he work on the bridge?' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

JJD: Iáh.

'No.'

Iáhten, Tiohtià:ke thí:

no Montreal that

'No, in Montreal.' (Josie Jacobs Day, Kw)

Contrastive negation can also be expressed with the equational construction described in §2.3, consisting of a negative particle and the negative verb *tè:ken* 'it is not', as in (100).

(100) Contrastive negation

Iáh okwáho tè:ken', tsítsho í:ken'.
 iah o-kwaho te'-ka-i-' tsitsho i-ka-i-'
 not N-wolf NEG-N.AGT-be-STAT fox PROTH-N.AGT-be-STAT
 'It's **not** a wolf, it's a fox.'

The negative particle *tóhsa* described earlier, in combination with an irrealis perfective verb, is used for negative purpose: 'in order that not', 'so that not', as in (101).

(101) Negative reason

Nek tsi ohén:ton ki: ne' kà:niote' ne:
 ne=ok tsi ohenton kiken ne'e ka-hniot-e-' ne'e
 that=only as before this it.is N.AGT-stand-EP-STAT it.is
 'But something was standing in front [of the fireplace]'
tóhsa' ki: sótsi taonré:ni' kí:ken.
 tohsa' kiken so'tsi t-aa-w-areni-' kiken
 NEG this too.much DV-IRR-N.AGT-disperse-PFV this
 'so that the embers wouldn't spread too much.' (Sadie Sesír Smoke Peters, A)

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

Negative constructions within the Iroquoian family can be seen to have developed via Jespersen cycles (Mithun 1995, 2016), a not uncommon trajectory. The family consists of two main branches, Southern Iroquoian, now represented only by Cherokee, and Northern Iroquoian. Within the Northern branch, the first group to separate became the Tuscarora-Nottoway, followed by the Wendat (Huron)-Wyandot. The remaining Northern people, known as Iroquois, became the Seneca, Cayuga, Susquehannock, Onondaga, Oneida, and Mohawk.

The negative prefix *te'*- was apparently grammaticalized early in the development of Iroquois verb morphology, because it is one of the innermost prefixes, occurring immediately before the cislocative, repetitive, or pronominal prefix, as can be seen in Table 2. It has cognates in all of the Iroquois languages. This early attachment is not surprising. Negation is extremely common in daily speech, and frequency can lead to the processing of a recurring sequence of words as a chunk, here a negative particle and a following verb, then fusion. But negation is also usually one of the most important parts of the message. Once fused with the verb, the negative prefix could no longer carry independent stress. And as more prefixes were added to the verb over time, the inner position of the negative prefix would have further reduced its salience.

Speakers of the various Iroquois languages remedied the mismatch between form and function in slightly different ways. For verbs with additional prenominal prefixes, Seneca speakers reorganized the prefix order, moving the negative *te'*- outward to a position before newer prefixes. Cayuga, Onondaga, Oneida, and Mohawk speakers opted instead to exploit an existing outer prefix for this purpose in these situations, the Contrastive *th*-.

But even word-initial prefixes are less salient than separate words. They cannot be given emphatic stress, and they are usually small, in these languages often little more than a single syllable or less. Cayuga, Onondaga, Oneida, and Mohawk speakers began reinforcing their negative constructions with additional particles based on their words for 'no', the pattern still seen in the match between the *iah* of the Mohawk negative construction and the answer *iah* 'no'. The origin of this particle is no longer discernible. These reinforcements apparently occurred after the languages had separated, since they are not cognate across the languages.

5 Conclusion

In concert with the typological profile of Mohawk as polysynthetic and dependent marking, with a preponderance of verbs and no non-finite clauses, the same

constructions are used for most negation. The standard negative construction consists of a negative particle *iah* at or near the beginning of the clause, plus a negative prefix *te'*- or contrastive prefix *th*- on the verbal predicate. This construction is used for declarative clauses, questions, answers, and descriptive, locative, existential, and possessive predications. Equation and proper inclusion are negated with the negative particle *iah* and the negated form of the verb 'be', with the negative prefix. They negate both independent and dependent clauses, as well as constituents, including indefinite pronouns and quantifiers.

There is, however, an interplay between the standard negation construction and tense, aspect, and modality. Event verbs are inflected for habitual, perfective, or stative aspect, except for commands. Negative factual perfectives (usually interpreted as past) differ slightly from their positive counterparts. Negation of past events is accomplished with negative statives, interpreted as perfects. Negation of future events and recurring events in the past is accomplished with negative irrealis perfectives.

Commands, future imperatives, and hortatives are negated with a different marker *tóhsa'* and no prefix on the verb. Irrealis perfectives with a deontic obligation sense ('should, be supposed to') or purposive sense ('on order that') are negated with the same particle *tóhsa'* and no prefix on the verb.

Sentence fragments which lack a predicate are negated simply with a negative particle *iah* or *tóhsa'*.

Strategies for negation are summarized in the Table 3 below.

Table 3: Summary of negation strategies in Mohawk

Negation strategy	Functions
Clause-initial particle <i>iáh</i> + verb prefix <i>te'</i> - or <i>th</i> - Negative of past perfective = negated past perfect Negative of future perfective = negated irrealis perfective	Standard negation
Prohibitive particle <i>tóhsa'</i> , no verb prefix	Prohibitive for commands, hortatives, deontic irrealis, purpose clauses
Negative particle <i>iáh</i> or <i>tóhsa'</i> before focused element with verb prefix <i>te</i> - or <i>th</i> - No noun case effect	Negation of focused element
Simple particle <i>iáh</i> 'no'	Negative reply, Answers the proposition, not the presupposition
Indefinite pronouns, quantifiers in standard negation constructions	Negative indefinites and quantifiers
<i>are'kho</i> in standard negative construction	'not yet'
<i>iáh</i> <i>ten</i> 'absolutely not' <i>iáh the:nen</i> 'not anything'	reinforcing negation
Development via common Jespersen cycles	

Abbreviations

1	first person	INCH	inchoative
2	second person	INCL	inclusive
3	third person	INS	instrumental
AGT	grammatical agent	IRR	irrealis
AL	alienable	LNK	linker
APPL	applicative	M	masculine
ART	article	MID	middle
BEN	benefactive	N	neuter
CAUS	causative	NEG	negative
CHAR	characterizer	NMLZ	nominalizer
CONT	continuative	NS	noun suffix
CNTR	contrastive	PAT	grammatical patient
CIS	cislocative	PFV	perfective
DEC	decessive	PL	plural
DIM	diminutive	POSS	possessive
DIR	directional	PROG	progressive
DISTR	distributive	PROTH	prothetic
DPL	duoplural	PAR	partitive
DU	dual	PURP	purposive
DV	duplicative	Q	question marker
EP	epenthetic	REFL	reflexive
EXCL	exclusive	RPT	repetitive
F	feminine	SG	singular
FACT	factual	STAT	stative
FI	feminine-indefinite	TAG	tag question
FUT	future	TRL	translocative
HAB	habitual	Z	zoic
IMP	imperative		

Abbreviations for communities are: Kahnawà:ke Kw, Kanehsatà:ke Ks, Wáhta' W, Ahkwesáhsne A, Ohswé:ken' O, and Tyendinaga T.

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Negation in Oneida

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This chapter focuses on the expression of negation in Oneida, which involves both an independent word (usually the particle *yah*) and a negative prefix on verbs or the word *té·kʌ*. Overall, negation in Oneida is uniform across phrases and clauses, and the relation between scope and negation is also uniform (the negative particle *yah* must occur to the left of any operator or predicate it scopes over). Nevertheless, the expression of negation in Oneida is remarkable for the complexity of its morphological expression, and the presence of a series of ontologically general words that are both used as negative polarity items and serve as the basis of the “derivation” of corresponding indefinite expressions.

Keywords: Oneida, Iroquoian, negation, morphology.

1 Introduction

Oneida (ISO: **one**, Glottocode: **onei1249**) is one of five Northern Iroquoian languages still spoken by those who learned their language as a first language, before English. The others are Mohawk, the most closely related to Oneida, Onondaga, Cayuga, and Seneca. The Iroquoian languages are polysynthetic, known for their pervasive noun incorporation and enormously complex prefixal inflection with sometimes funky phonological processes making it difficult to unambiguously decide on discrete morpheme boundaries. Today, there are three Oneida territories in the United States and Canada. The Oneida Nation of New York is located on territory east of Syracuse, New York. During the 1800s groups of Oneidas moved away from New York and established settlements in southwestern Ontario and in the vicinity of Green Bay, Wisconsin. Oneida has been considered a severely endangered language. Presently Oneida is spoken by speakers who learned Oneida as a first language only in Ontario at the Oneida Nation of the Thames, where according to latest estimates there are fewer than 40 fluent first-language speakers. Fewer than 30 elders were reported to have learned Oneida

before English in Wisconsin in the mid-1990s, and the last speaker, Maria Hinton, died at age 103 in 2013. There have been no first-language speakers from the Oneida Nation in NY since at least the mid-1970s or 80s. Encouraging though, is that all the Northern Iroquoian communities (including Tuscarora and Wendat in addition to the five mentioned above) have programs that are committed to the inter-generational transmission of the languages, and some of these efforts have been remarkably successful. More and more, second-language learners provide an expertise when first-language speakers cannot.

The presentation of Oneida negation patterns in this paper follows the organization in the questionnaire provided by the editors of this volume. The data is almost exclusively from the Oneida Nation of the Thames. There are some differences between the variety of Oneida spoken in Ontario and in Wisconsin. For example, the word for ‘no’ in Wisconsin is *yáhtΛ?*, which is related to the negative particle *yah*. In Ontario, the word for ‘no’ is *táh*. Most of the examples in this paper were gleaned from the text collections in Michelson et al. (2016). Extracts are reproduced exactly as in the original, including any punctuation (or lack of it) when the extract is only part of an utterance. The speaker’s name is identified after the extract, followed by the page number where the extract can be found, and the utterance number. The excerpts from texts are supplemented by data from Michelson & Doxtator (2002) and from collaborative work with the late Mercy Doxtator, the late Norma Kennedy, and Olive Elm. Occasionally approximations of English sentences from the questionnaire were requested from Olive Elm, and all unattributed examples were confirmed with Olive Elm.

The expression of negation in Oneida, aside from imperative and prohibitive contexts, is for the most part uniform. Only clausal negation is present in the language and the same formal expression is used in all major syntactic structures (including questions, stative predications, and indefinites) and in both main and embedded clauses. Still, slightly different constraints are operative in a number of contexts of use, and there are certain structures, for example what we call *negation spreading* and different structures for negating category membership (or identification) versus negating a participant in a situation, where there is more to be said in a description that calls for completeness. Also, a few aspects of negation in Oneida stand out typologically; especially notable is that the distribution of negative formatives in Oneida offers a particularly clear example of the distinction between *morphosyntactic features*, in this case the feature *negative*, and the *exponents* of that feature.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation is expressed in Oneida by a particle, which is *yah* in most contexts except those noted below and in §2.2, plus a negative prefix on the verb. In the example of standard negation in (1) the negative prefix is *teʔ*.¹ Whereas in other Northern Iroquoian languages the particle that occurs in standard negation is the same as the word for ‘no,’ this is not the case in Oneida as spoken at the Oneida Nation of the Thames (the variety represented in this paper); the negative particle is *yah* while ‘no’ is *táh*.

- (1) a. wakanúhte?
 wak-anuhte-ʔ
 1SG.P-know-STAT
 ‘I know’ (Michelson & Doxtator 2002: 107)
- b. yah teʔwakanúhte?
 yah teʔ-wak-anuhte-ʔ
 not NEG-1SG.P-know-STAT
 ‘I don’t know’ (Michelson & Doxtator 2002: 107)

This pattern – particle plus verbal prefix – is usually classified as *double negation* (Dryer 2013, Van Alsenoy & van der Auwera 2014) and it occurs in all clauses except (non-declarative) imperatives and prohibitives. In Miestamo’s (2003) typology, Oneida exhibits symmetrical negation: a negative clause involves only the addition of the particle plus prefix to the corresponding positive. However negation in Oneida is also asymmetrical because it is restricted to certain aspect-mode categories. The negative structure occurs in two of the three basic aspects, the habitual (imperfective) and stative. The third basic aspect, the punctual (or perfective) always occurs with one of three modal prefixes: future, optative, or factual. The optative mode of the punctual aspect can be negated, but the factual

¹In the Oneida orthography the vowel *u* is a high (for some speakers closer to mid) back mildly rounded nasalized vowel and *ʌ* is a low-mid central nasalized vowel. A raised period indicates vowel length. Underlining indicates devoicing, one of a set of phonological processes that occur at the ends of utterances. In the interlinear glosses a bare numeral 3 abbreviates a number of third person categories: feminine singular, indefinite or non-specific, masculine dual and plural, and feminine-zoic dual and plural (see Michelson 2015 for the gender categories of Oneida). When we give excerpts from recorded texts, we generally do not cite a sentence or utterance in its entirety; any punctuation, or lack of it, is as in the original transcriptions of the recording. Also note that Oneida has over 150 uninflected particles, and speakers find some of them difficult to translate into English; these are simply glossed ‘PTCL’ in the interlinear glosses.

and future cannot. Verbs that otherwise occur in the factual mode are negated with the stative aspect (2), and verbs that otherwise occur in the future mode are negated with the optative mode (3). The example in (3) shows also that material can intervene between the negative particle and the negative verb form.

- (2) a. waʔukwanú·lyahke?
 waʔ-yukwa-nuhlyaʔk-eʔ
 FACT-1PL.P-get.hurt-PNC
 ‘we got hurt’
- b. yah teʔyukwanuhlyá·ku
 yah teʔ-yukwa-nuhlyaʔk-u
 not NEG-1SG.P-get.hurt-STAT
 ‘we weren’t hurt’ (Michelson & Doxtator 2002: 538)
- (3) a. ʌtehsanúhtu?
 ʌ-te-hs-anuhtu-ʔ
 FUT-CIS-2SG.A-determine,control-PNC
 ‘you will determine it’ (Michelson & Doxtator 2002: 108)
- b. nʌ kiʔ yah isé· thaesanúhtu?
 nʌ kiʔ yah isé· th-ae-s-anuhtu-ʔ
 now actually not you CNTR-OPT-2SG.P-determine,control-PNC
 ‘you are not going to have your way.’ Verland Cornelius (Michelson
 et al. 2016: 338 (256))

The form *th-* in (3b) is usually identified as the contrastive prefix. It occurs instead of the negative form *teʔ-* under two conditions: (i) when the verb is in the optative mode, as in the example in (3b), or (ii) when either (or both) the dualic (4b) or translocative (5b) verbal prefixes are also present.²

- (4) a. tewakatuhutsyoni
 te-wak-atuhutsyoni
 DLC-1SG.P-want,need[STAT]
 ‘I want or need it’ (Michelson & Doxtator 2002: 254)
- b. yah thaʔtewakatuhutsyoni
 yah th-aʔte-wak-atuhutsyoni
 not CNTR-DLC-1SG.P-want,need[STAT]
 ‘I don’t want or need it’

²An additional, unusual, exponent of the negative with the translocative is discussed in §4.6.3.

- (5) a. *tho yΛháske?*
 tho yΛh-Λ-s-k-e-ʔ
 there TRL-FUT-RPT-1SG.A-walk,go-PNC
 ‘I will go there again’ (Michelson & Doxtator 2002: 295)
- b. *yah tho thyusa-ké.*
 yah tho th-y-u-s-a-k-e-ʔ
 not there CNTR-TRL-OPT-RPT-OPT-1SG.A-go,walk-PNC
 ‘I won’t go there again’

It is important, for the proper classification of Oneida negation, to recognize that it is not the case that in examples such as (4b) and (5b) the particle *yah* is simply added to a positive verb form with the contrastive prefix. Outside of the negative, the contrastive is relatively unproductive, and negated contrastive forms are not accepted. Abbott (2000: 12) is explicit about this point: “the negative and contrastive are mutually exclusive semantically”. The contrastive is the realization, or exponent, of the negative morphosyntactic *feature* under the conditions stated above; it is *not* just an exponent of the contrastive feature. An example of a verb form with the contrastive feature can be seen in (6), which was spoken in the context of people nowadays being on welfare instead of working for their money.

- (6) *nΛ seʔ kwáh ok thiyeshawista-wíheʔ*
 nΛ seʔ kwáh ok thi-yesa-hwist-awi-heʔ
 then too just only CNTR-3>2SG-money-give-HAB
 ‘you just get money given to you.’ Verland Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 322(100))

In sum, clausal negation in Oneida involves a negative particle and an exponent of the negative feature, either *teʔ-* or *th-*. Both *teʔ-* and *th-* occur word-initially in the verb, i.e. in the same “slot” in the morphological template of the Oneida verb. Two other prefixes that occur in the word-initial “slot” are the *partitive* and *coincident* prefixes (using Iroquoianist terms) and thus are in complementary distribution with the negative and contrastive exponents; discussion of these in negative structures is deferred to §4.6.2.

To end this section, we mention two additional negative particles, *áhsu* ‘not yet’, exemplified in (7), and *ahsuhká* (for an example see (78) in §4.6.2). In the excerpt in (7) the narrator is telling us that the house her father was building was not even finished when they moved there. Both the particles *áhsu* and *ahsuhká* are attested far less often than *yah*.

- (7) áhsu kwahotoká·u te?yotéhsu? ókhna?
 áhsu kwahotoká·u te?-yo-atehs-u? ókhna?
 not.yet just.for.real NEG-3Z/N.SG.P-get.finished-STAT and.then
 ya?akwanáklate?
 y-a?-yakw-anaklat-e?
 TRL-FACT-1EXCL.PL.A-move,settle.in-PNC
 ‘it [the house] wasn’t finished yet and already we moved in.’ Olive Elm
 (Michelson et al. 2016: 106 (3))

2.2 Non-declarative negation

In this section we describe polar questions, and imperatives and prohibitives. Negative polar questions use standard negation and so are discussed first.

Polar questions are formed with the second-position polar question particle *ká* (8). In negative polar questions *ká* occurs after the negative particle, and otherwise the question is like any other standard negation; (9) is an example of a negative polar question. The expected reply to a negative polar question is normally *táh* ‘no’ (see also §3.1). Utterances with the structure of negative polar questions, however, are attested more frequently as indirect speech acts.

The excerpt in (10) was uttered by the narrator’s father after he scared her mother by showing a pig head through a window; this happened after some spooky events that led the narrator’s mother to believe their house was haunted, and she was not happy about being pranked by a pig head.³

- (8) shekú *ká* yetshi-káhe? thiká atyanlúhsla? owahá·ke.
 shekú *ká* yetshi-*ká*-he? thiká atyanlúhsla? owahá·ke
 still Q 2DU>3-see-HAB that ghost on.the.road
 ‘do you still see that ghost on the road?’ Verland Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 67 (21))
- (9) Yah *ká* te?satkáthu n aké·slet.
 yah *ká* te?-s-atkath-u n ake-?slet
 not Q NEG-2SG.P-see-STAT PTCL 1SG.POSS-car
 ‘You haven’t seen my car?’ Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 133 (27))

³Woodbury (2018: 394) reports that in the related language Onondaga negative polar questions occur rarely in her corpus, and when they do, they usually are interpreted as polite requests.

- (10) yah k_Λ teʔsatshanuní kóskos okúhsaʔ áhseke
 yah k_Λ teʔ-s-atshanuni kóskos okúhsaʔ ʌ-hse-k-eʔ
 not Q NEG-2SG.P-happy[STAT] pig face FUT-2SG.A-eat-PNC
 ʌyólh_Λneʔ.
 ʌyólh_Λneʔ
 tomorrow
 ‘you’re not happy? you can eat the pig face tomorrow?’ Verland
 Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 114 (43))

Polar questions can occur with modal verbs, for example *-atu-* ‘possible, can be.’ This verb, when inflected with the feminine-zaic/neuter singular prefix, expresses possibility or permission (11) and necessity (12). The examples in (12) differ from those in (11) only by the presence of the particle *nok* (otherwise ‘only’); in other words the particle *nok* has the effect of altering an expression of possibility to one of necessity.

As expected, (11c), (11d) and (12c), (12d) adhere to the structure of standard negation. Also, as expected, while the future prefix occurs with the verbs in the positive sentences, the optative prefix occurs in the negative ones.

- (11) a. ʌwa-tú· ʌkatnutolyaʔtá·naʔ.
 ʌ-w-atu-ʔ ʌ-k-atnutolyaʔtahn-aʔ
 FUT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC FUT-1SG.A-go.and.play-PNC
 ‘I can go and play.’
 b. ʌwa-tú· k_Λ ʌkatnutolyaʔtá·naʔ.
 ʌ-w-atu-ʔ k_Λ ʌ-k-atnutolyaʔtahn-aʔ
 FUT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC Q FUT-1SG.A-go.and.play-PNC
 ‘Can I go and play?’
 c. Yah thau-tú· a·katnutolyaʔtá·naʔ.
 yah th-aa-w-atu-ʔ aa-k-atnutolyaʔtahn-aʔ
 not CNTR-OPT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC OPT-1SG.A-go.and.play-PNC
 ‘I can’t go and play.’
 d. Yah k_Λ thau-tú· a·katnutolyaʔtá·naʔ.
 yah k_Λ th-aa-w-atu-ʔ aa-k-atnutolyaʔtahn-aʔ
 not Q CNTR-OPT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC OPT-1SG.A-go.and.play-PNC
 ‘I can’t go and play?’

- (12) a. Nok Δ wa-tú· Δ katnutolyaʔtá-naʔ.
 nok Δ -w-atu-ʔ Δ -k-atnutolyaʔtahn-aʔ
 only FUT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC FUT-1SG.A-go.and.play-PNC
 ‘I have to go and play.’
- b. Nok $k\Delta$ Δ wa-tú· Δ katnutolyaʔtá-naʔ.
 nok $k\Delta$ Δ -w-atu-ʔ Δ -k-atnutolyaʔtahn-aʔ
 only Q FUT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC FUT-1SG.A-go.and.play-PNC
 ‘Do I have to go and play?’
- c. Yah nok thau-tú· a-katnutolyaʔtá-naʔ.
 yah nok th-aa-w-atu-ʔ aa-k-atnutolyaʔtahn-aʔ
 not only CNTR-OPT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC OPT-1SG.A-go.and.play-PNC
 ‘I don’t have to go and play.’
- d. Yah $k\Delta$ nok thau-tú· a-katnutolyaʔtá-naʔ.
 yah $k\Delta$ nok th-aa-w-atu-ʔ aa-k-atnutolyaʔtahn-aʔ
 not Q only CNTR-OPT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC OPT-1SG.A-go.and.play-PNC
 ‘I don’t have to go and play.’

Negative imperatives and prohibitives deviate from the standard negation structure in that the particle *tákaʔ* occurs instead of the negative particle *yah* and the verb does not have a negative prefix. Negative imperatives require the future modal prefix on the verb, while prohibitives require the optative. An imperative form is given in (13), a negative imperative in (14) and a prohibitive in (15). The ending of the verb form that usually occurs in the imperative (both negative and non-negative) and prohibitive is best described as based on the punctual aspect verb form, but with some subtractive morphology in that the imperative lacks a final glottal stop or a final vowel *e* (historically an epenthetic vowel) plus glottal stop, and if the punctual form ends in a long vowel, the imperative form ends in a short vowel.⁴ Sometimes though (unpredictably) the punctual ending occurs.

- (13) Wá-s yaʔsenhotukó ohná-kʌʔ nukwá,
 wá-s yaʔ-se-nhotuko ohná-kʌʔ nukwá.
 go TRL-2SG.A-open.door[IMP] back where
 ‘Go open the back door,’ Olive Elm (Michelson et al. 2016: 60 (4))

⁴In the punctual aspect, the verb in (13) would end in a long vowel, (14) and (15) in ʔ, and (17) in *-neʔ*.

- (14) tákʌ? náhte? ʌhsí·lu.
 tákʌ? náhte? ʌ-hs-ihlu
 don't anything FUT-2SG.A-say[IMP]
 'you don't say anything.' Clifford Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 230 (85))
- (15) Né· kyuhte wí· thikʌ waʔshakohlo·lí· tákʌ?
 né· kyuhte wí· thikʌ waʔshako-hloli-? tákʌ?
 ASRT supposedly that FACT-3M.SG>3-tell-PNC don't
 a·yakotétshʌ.
 aa-yako-atetshʌ
 OPT-3FI.SG.P-become.afraid[IMP]
 'He told her she shouldn't become afraid.' Olive Elm (Michelson et al. 2016: 169 (47))

As evident from examples (16) and (17), the prohibitive structure is used not just to state that something should be avoided but also to describe a reason for doing something when an alternative action would, supposedly, result in an undesirable outcome. These negative purpose clauses are perhaps the closest equivalent to contexts where the English conjunction 'lest' is found.

- (16) Senhotú kwí· tákʌ? utahutáyaht
 se-nhotu kwí· tákʌ? u-t-a-hu-atayaht
 2SG.A-close.a.door[IMP] PTCL don't OPT-CIS-OPT-3M.PL.A-enter-[IMP]
 tsíks.
 tsíks
 flies
 'Close the door so the flies don't come in!' (Michelson & Doxtator 2002: 526)
- (17) tákʌ? a·knahko·lʌn kyuhte wáh.
 tákʌ? aa-k-nahkw-olʌ?-n kyuhte wáh
 don't OPT-1SG.A-mate-find-IMP supposedly indeed
 '(It's kind of like she watched over me,) so I would not get a man supposedly.' Pearl Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 310 (130))

2.3 Negation in stative predications

In many languages, like English, the same negative structure is used for concepts such as attribution, possession, and locations. English neutralizes the semantic

distinction between predicative phrases that describe, e.g. occupations (*John is a dentist*) and membership in a category of objects (*Pop is a beagle*); they are both predicative phrases. The syntax and the morphology of Oneida, however, distinguishes between stative situations and objects. The former are expressed by verbs, the latter by nouns (but see Koenig & Michelson (2020, 2023) for what the terms *verb* and *noun* mean in this context), and different patterns of negation apply to these two kinds of stative predicates. In what follows we give examples that show that standard negation applies to attributes, locations, existential meaning, and possession. Then we describe a different structure for category membership and kin relations, as well as an alternative possession pattern (see Koenig & Michelson (2021) for details on the morphosyntax of possession in Oneida).

Stative predications that involve verbs – occupations and similar offices; attribution; proper inclusion; locative, existential and possessive predication – are all negated with the clausal negation pattern described in §2.1. Occupations are generally expressed with the habitual aspect of verbs (e.g. *shakonawilahslu-nihe?* ‘dentist,’ literally, ‘he fixes their teeth’) and attribution is generally expressed with stative verbs (indicated v.s. in Michelson & Doxtator 2002 or *state* in Abbott et al. 1996). These are negated as any other clause. An example of attribution and its negation is given in (18).

- (18) a. *yokΛhákste?*
 yo-kΛh-a-kst-e?
 3Z/N.SG.P-blanket-JOIN-heavy-STAT
 ‘it’s a heavy blanket’
 b. *yah te?yokΛhákste?*
 yah te?-yo-kΛh-a-kst-e?
 not NEG-3Z/N.SG.P-blanket-JOIN-heavy-STAT
 ‘it’s not a heavy blanket’ (Olive Elm, p.c.)

Locative and existential meanings, and possession, are all conveyed with verbs of position: *-yΛ/-yΛt-* ‘put or lie something down (on the ground),’ *-ot/-hnyot-* ‘erect or stand something up,’ *-hl-hel-* ‘set or place on top of,’ and *-t-* ‘be standing’ occur most often, although there are other verbs whose meaning includes location of a particular category of entity (such as snow, in (19c) below). Turning first to locatives, the verb specifies the position or orientation of an entity, and the located entity is more often than not denoted by a noun stem that has been incorporated into the verb; in the examples in (19a) and (19b) the stem *-nuhs-* ‘house’ is incorporated into the verb *-ot-* ‘stand.’ The specific location (where something

is located) is expressed by the particle *tho* ‘there’ plus the separate clause *aʔé·naʔoháhati* ‘over on the other side of the road’ in (19a), or a form that has a locative suffix, *owahaʔkésu?* ‘on the roads’, in (19c). Negation of clauses that include a positional verb take the usual form, *yah* plus negative prefix.

- (19) a. *aʔé· naʔoháhati* *ká·, tho*
aʔé· naʔ-yo-hah-ati *ká· tho*
 great PAR-3Z/N.SG.P-road-other.side[STAT] y’know there
tkanúhsote?,
t-ka-nuhs-ot-e?
 CIS-3Z/N.SG.A-house-stand-STAT
 ‘over on the other side of the road, there was a house,’ Mercy
 Doxtator (Michelson et al. 2016: 142–143 (5))
- b. *né· aolí-wa?* *yah tho teʔskanúhsote?*
né· aolí-wa? *yah tho teʔ-s-ka-nuhs-ot-e?*
 ASRT the.reason not there NEG-RPT-3Z/N.SG.A-house-stand-STAT
 ‘(we had a fire,) that’s why the house isn’t there anymore.’ Mercy
 Doxtator (Michelson et al. 2016: 142 (4))
- c. *yah tho teʔkanye·yá·*
yah tho teʔ-ka-nyeyΛ-?
 not there NEG-3Z/N.SG.A-snow.gets.on.the.ground-STAT
owahaʔkésu?,
o-wah-aʔke-shu?
 3Z/N.SG.P-road,path-LOC-DISTR
 ‘there wasn’t snow on the roads,’ Mercy Doxtator (Michelson et al. 2016: 193 (13))

Existential meaning is expressed with positional verbs, as pointed out above, and, for animate beings, with the habitual aspect of the verb *-e-* ‘walk, go.’ Examples are given in (20). Negative existentials often include indefinite expressions (§4.2). The example in (20c) shows the effect of a regular phonological alternation of Oneida, whereby a glottal stop (in this case the *ʔ* of the negative prefix *teʔ-*) is deleted when it follows an accented vowel, and the accented vowel lengthens.

- (20) a. *tahnú· kwáh kok níku ska·yá·* *thiká othé·tsli?*,
tahnú· kwáh kok níku s-ka-yΛ-? *thiká othé·tsli?*
 and just a.little amount RPT-3Z/N.SG.A-put-STAT that flour
 ‘and there was just a small amount of flour left,’ Clifford Cornelius
 (Michelson et al. 2016: 224 (42))

- b. wahá·lu? thiká shakotsyapslatshalyá·se,
 wahá·lu? thiká shako·tsyap·sl·a·tshaly·a·?se
 he.said that 3M.SG>3·job-NMLZ-JOIN-look.for-JOIN-BEN[STAT]
 wahá·lu? “yah náhte? te?ka·yÁ·”,
 wahá·lu? yah náhte? te?ka·yÁ·?
 he.said not anything NEG-3Z/N.SG.A-put-STAT
 ‘the person who finds jobs for people said, he said “there’s nothing available”’ Clifford Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 231 (90))
- c. Wahotétshá? lonúhte? tsi? yah úhka?
 wa·ho·atetshá·? lo·anuhte·? tsi? yah úhka?
 FACT-3M.SG.P-get.scared-PNC 3M.SG.P-know-STAT COMP not anyone
 oyá· tho té·yÁhse?,
 oyá· tho te?·yÁ·e·?se?
 else there NEG-3FL.A-walk,go-HAB
 ‘He got scared knowing that there wasn’t anyone else there,’ Rose Antone (Michelson et al. 2016: 100 (12))

An example of possession is the following excerpt. It includes two positional verbs, first one where possession is asserted, and then one where possession is negated, as in (21).

- (21) kítkit ok oni? usayukwayÁ·táke? yah oni? né·
 kítkit ok oni? u·s·a·yukwa·yÁt·ak·e? yah oni? né·
 chicken(s) only too OPT-RPT-OPT-1PL.P-put,have-CONT-PNC not too ASRT
 te?tsyukwa·yÁ·.
 te?ts·yukwa·yÁ·?
 NEG-RPT-1PL.P-put,have-STAT
 ‘we should have chickens too, we don’t have them anymore either.’ Hazel Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 181 (13))

Stative predications that assert that an entity is a member of a category and involve nouns, in the simplest case, involve the so-called “assertion” particle *né·* and either a demonstrative particle or the particle *né·n*, as in the excerpt in (22). Here the speaker is talking about her father telling his children about what will happen in the future, including things like airplanes, which didn’t exist at the time. Membership in a category (23), as well as statements of non-identity (24), are denied with the special form *té·kÁ*. Etymologically this form probably is the negative prefix *te?*- plus a component *-kÁ*- which in the contemporary language occurs most obviously in the proximal and distal demonstrative words *ka?iká*

‘here’ and *thiká* ‘there.’⁵ (Again, by regular phonological rule, a glottal stop that follows an accented vowel deletes and the vowel lengthens, and so *teʔ-kΛ* is realized as *té·kΛ*.)

- (22) náhteʔ katiʔ né· lΛ·té· kaʔi·kΛ. Né·n né· kwí· né·n airplane.
 what then ASRT he.means this PTCL ASRT PTCL PTCL airplane
 ‘What does he mean by this? It’s an airplane.’ Margaret Antone
 (Michelson et al. 2016: 176 (27–28))
- (23) ókhaleʔ nΛ sΛ waʔkáattokeʔ tsiʔ yah seʔ kóskos té·kΛ.
 ókhaleʔ nΛ sΛ waʔ-k-attok-eʔ tsiʔ yah seʔ kóskos té·kΛ
 and now too FACT-1SG.A-notice-PNC COMP not EMPH pig it’s.not
 ‘and then I noticed that this was no pig.’ Abbott (1982–1983: 75)
- (24) A: Isé· kΛ tho tsyá·taleʔ.
 isé· kΛ tho ts-yaʔt-a-l-eʔ
 you Q there 2SG.A-body-JOIN-be.in-STAT
 ‘Is that you in the picture?’
 B: Yah kiʔ í· té·kΛ.
 not in.fact 1 it’s.not
 ‘It’s not me.’

Kin relations (25) and possessed nouns (26) can also be negated with *té·kΛ*. Possession is usually conveyed by the use of the predicative structure with positional verbs described above, but subsequent references to a possessed entity can be made by means of a possessive prefix on the stem denoting the possessed entity; in this case negation is expressed with *té·kΛ*.

- (25) Yah né· laksótha té·kΛ, laknulhá· nΛʔ né·.
 not ASRT my.grandfather it’s.not my.uncle that.one
 ‘That’s not my grandfather, he’s my uncle.’
- (26) Yah í· akwá·shaleʔ té·kΛ.
 yah í· akw-aʔshal-eʔ té·kΛ
 not 1 1SG.POSS-knife-NS it’s.not
 ‘It’s not my knife.’

⁵Woodbury (2018: 214) hypothesizes that the cognate word in Onondaga, *déʔgəh* includes the verb root *-i-* ‘to be the total of, be all of it, be only’.

Interestingly, both kinship and possessed entities can be negated with the pattern that usually applies to clauses, i.e. with the particle *yah* and the prefix *teʔ-*, as in, for example, *yah tehaksótha* ‘he is not my grandfather.’ However, this structure is accepted by speakers only sporadically for kin relations, and for possessed entities consistently only with the stem *-awΛ-* ‘belonging’ (27). (Note that the negative form of *-awΛ-* ‘belonging in (27b) has a verbal patient prefix, and not a possessive prefix as in the positive form in (27a).) Also, it should be noted that some speakers are careful to point out that, though sentences like ‘he is not my grandfather’ do occur, the pragmatics are such that they are not often uttered (regardless of which structure is used). So the way someone might ask about the identity of a person’s mother (say an older lady and a young man are standing together) is *Né· uhte kʔ lonulháh?* ‘It’s presumably his mother? i.e. I wonder/ You think maybe it’s his mother?’ And the response then might be *Táh, Lucy né· lonulháh.* ‘No, Lucy is his mother.’

- (27) a. Í· né· akwawÁ thikÁ (oʔwáshaleʔ).
 í· né· akw-awΛ thikÁ (oʔwáshaleʔ)
 1 ASRT 1SG.POSS-belonging that earring(s)
 ‘Those are mine (my earrings).’
 b. Yah né· akaulhá· teʔyakowÁ thikÁ (oʔwáshaleʔ).
 yah né· aka-ulhaʔ teʔ-yako-awΛ thikÁ (oʔwáshaleʔ)
 not ASRT 3FL.P-self NEG-3FL.P-belonging that earring(s)
 ‘Those aren’t hers (her earrings).’

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

As noted already, standard negation is used in all clauses, and regardless of whether the clause functions as a main or dependent clause, or whether the clause expresses location, existence, membership in a category, or possession. In the excerpt in (28) both clauses are negative.

- (28) Yah kwí· teʔwaklΛʔnhá·u yah kánikeʔ
 yah kwí· teʔ-wak-lΛʔnhaʔ-u yah kánikeʔ
 not PTCL NEG-1SG.P-know.how-STAT not anywhere
 tha·hné·shekeʔ.
 th-aa-hn-e-ʔshek-eʔ
 CNTR-OPT-3M.DU.A-walk,go-CONT-PNC
 ‘I wasn’t used to the two of them [my parents] not being there.’ Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 118 (8))

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Oneida has a number of stems whose meanings appear to include some negative component; several are listed in (29); inflected forms of these may be found in Michelson & Doxtator (2002). These are not the negative correspondents of lexical items expressing positive meanings. Only one of the verbs in (29), *-atanowΛht-* ‘doubt’, is clearly analyzable (it is based on the stative verb root *-anowΛ-* ‘lie’, to which the causative suffix has been added, *-anowΛ-ht-* ‘tell lies’, and then the semi-reflexive or middle prefix *-at-anowΛ-ht-* ‘doubt, be doubtful’). Examples of three of the stems in (29) are given in (30–32). In addition to the stems in (29) there is also the particle *áhsu* ‘not yet’ mentioned in §2.1.

- (29) *-ahtakw/-ahtakwΛ-* ‘be unable to do, fail in an attempt’
-alahsalΛ- ‘hold back, not want to do something’
-atanowΛht- ‘doubt’
-atstahl- ‘be unable to find something’
-luhyaʔtahkw- ‘be uncooperative’
-nolu- ‘be unable to quite make it, have a hard time, get stuck’
-oʔkt- ‘run out of, lack’
-yehwa/-yehwha- ‘be unable to find’
- (30) Né·n waʔtyutkahtúniʔ kaʔiká átste, kwáh kiʔ né·
né·n waʔ-t-yu-atkaht-unyu-ʔ kaʔiká átste, kwáh kiʔ né·
PTCL FACT-DLC-3FI.A-look-DISTR-PNC this outside just actually ASRT
sayutatyaʔtátstaleʔ utatyáha,
s-a-yutat-yaʔt-atstal-eʔ utatyáha
RPT-FACT-3FI>3FI-body-unable.to.find-PNC her.daughter
‘She looked all around outside, she just couldn’t find her daughter,’
Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 52 (23))
- (31) swatyelá s tsiʔ naʔteyukwayenhalá·u thiká yukwatΛhni·nú·
swatyelá s tsiʔ n-aʔte-yukwa-yenhalaʔ·u thiká yukw-atΛhninu-ʔ
sometimes usually COMP PAR-DLC-1PL.P-get.busy-STAT that 1PL.P-sell-STAT
Swatyelá s waʔakwathnanaʔtó·ktΛʔ,
swatyelá s waʔ-yakw-at-hnanaʔt-oʔkt-Λʔ
sometimes usually FACT-1EXCL.PL.A-SREFL-potato-run.out.of-PNC
‘sometimes we would be really busy selling. Sometimes we ran out of potatoes,’ Georgina Nicholas (Michelson et al. 2016: 216 (141–142))

- (32) Wahatano·wáhte? náhte? wahetshlo·lí.
 wa-h-at-anowΛ-ht-e? náhte? wa-hets-hloli-?
 FACT-3M.SG.A-SREFL-lie-CAUS-PNC what FACT-2SG>3M.SG-tell-PNC
 ‘He had doubts about what you told him.’

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

The words for ‘yes’ and ‘no’ in Oneida (as spoken at the Oneida Nation of the Thames territory) are, respectively, *há·* and *táh*. Both can function as replies to questions. But only *táh* normally answers a negative polar question.⁶ The assumption by the person uttering the negative polar question is that the content is negative, and the answer *táh* ‘no’ agrees with that content. For example, *táh* ‘no’ answers the polar question in (33), and *táh* ‘no’ or better *áhsu ki?* ‘not yet in fact’ is the response to the polar question in (34).

- (33) Yah kΛ nok thau·tú· a·hoyo·tá·.
 yah kΛ nok th-aa-w-atu-? aa-ho-yotΛ-?
 not Q only CNTR-OPT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC OPT-3M.SG.P-work-PNC
 ‘He doesn’t have to work?’
- (34) Áhsu kΛ tha·yesaka·lí· otsi?nu·wá·.
 áhsu kΛ th-aa-yesa-kali-? otsi?nu·wá·
 not.yet Q CNTR-OPT-3>2SG-bite-PNC bug(s)
 ‘The bugs haven’t bitten you yet?’

A positive *há·* ‘yes’ response can be given to negative polar questions, but it must be followed by a confirmation, as in example (35).

- (35) A: Yah kΛ tha·hakwe·ní· a·hakhu·ní·.
 yah kΛ th-aa-ha-kweni-? aa-ha-khuni-?
 not Q CNTR-OPT-3M.SG.A-able-PNC OPT-3M.SG.A-cook-PNC
 ‘He can’t cook?’

⁶According to Sadock & Zwicky (1985: 180) the related language Onondaga has been claimed to have only biased questions. In Oneida, positive polar questions are neutral, and only negative polar questions are biased.

- B: HÁ·, ḁhakwe·ní· kih.
 hÁ· ḁ-ha-kweni-? ki?
 yes FUT-3M.SG.A-able-PNC actually
 ‘Yes, he can actually.’

As mentioned in §2.2, most attested negative polar questions in our corpus are indirect speech acts used for special effect, and often in a good-natured way. They can sometimes elicit a positive answer, without the hearer agreeing with the content, or even treating it as a question. In fact, some of these negative questions seem to invite a positive answer, but one which contradicts the intent of the person asking the question, as in the example in (36); here a mother is admonishing her child, and the child may be thinking ‘yes, of course’ with respect to the literal reading of the question but may not be in agreement with the intent of the question. In other cases, the negative question may be used playfully; the excerpt in (37) was spoken at the end of a scary story about a ghost. The storyteller is uttering this question as a way of engaging her audience. (In (37) the ? of the negative prefix *te?*- is regularly deleted before a following *h*.)

- (36) Yah kḁ tha?tehsahuhtaká·lute?.
 yah kḁ th-a?te-hs-ahuht-a-kahlut-e?
 not Q CNTR-DLC-2SG.A-ear-JOIN-be.an.opening-STAT
 ‘Don’t you have holes in your ears?’ (Michelson & Doxtator 2002: 83)
- (37) Yah kḁ téhselhe? a·sheya?tisákha?.
 yah kḁ te?-hs-elh-e? aa-she-ya?t-isakh-a?
 not Q NEG-2SG.A-want-STAT OPT-2SG>3-body-go.look.for-PNC
 ‘Don’t you want to go and look for her?’ Verland Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 69 (45))

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

There are no negative quantifiers in Oneida; negative existential quantification corresponding to English *nothing*, *nobody* and the like (called *negative indefinites* in Haspelmath 1997: 194) is expressed using standard clausal negation, i.e. the negative particle *yah* and the negative form of the verb together with a negative polarity item (specifically a word that otherwise functions as an interrogative pronoun) in the scope of *yah*. Negative polarity items are introduced in the section on negative polarity, §4.2.

3.3 Negative derivation

Semantically, notions such as the reverse of a situation may be construed as a kind of negation, and in Oneida certain pairs of contrary meanings are conveyed morphologically: some actions (e.g. open/close) (38a), scalar expressions (e.g. long/short) (38b), and transfer of ownership (e.g. buy/sell) (38c). These are conveyed, respectively, by the “reversative” suffix, the diminutive ending, and the “semi-reflexive” prefix, although it should be noted that each of these morphemes has other functions as well. There is no derivational equivalent to English *un-* or *-less*.

- | | | |
|------|--|--|
| (38) | <p>a. <i>-nhotu-</i> ‘close a door’
 <i>-ashalut-</i> ‘tie someone up’
 <i>-hweʔnuni-</i> ‘wrap into a package, bundle’</p> <p>b. <i>-es-</i> ‘be a (certain) length’
 <i>-aʔslatye-</i> ‘be a (certain) width’</p> <p>c. <i>-hninu-</i> ‘buy’
 <i>-niha-</i> ‘lend’</p> | <p><i>-nhotukw-</i> ‘open a door’
 <i>-ashalutakw-</i> ‘untie, unleash’
 <i>-hweʔnunyahsyu-</i> ‘unwrap, unbundle’</p> <p><i>-esha-</i> ‘be short’
 <i>-aʔslatyeha-</i> ‘be narrow’</p> <p><i>-atʌhninu-</i> ‘sell’
 <i>-atʌniha-</i> ‘borrow’</p> |
|------|--|--|

3.4 Other negative expressions

In our corpus there are examples of utterances with *yah*, but no (negative) verb. Because there is no verb they are aptly discussed in a section devoted to non-clausal negation, although we do not commit to an analysis in which all examples involve non-clausal negation. In this type of example what is denied is that a particular entity is the right one (39) and (40), or belongs to the right category (41).⁷ The entity is specified by a noun or other nominal element – the particle cluster *nʌʔ né·* in (39), *í· lakeʔniha* in (40), *é·lhal* in (41); what is being negated may be known from previous context, as in (39) and (40), or it can be mentioned later in the same utterance (41).

- (39) Ok neʔ thikʌ, yah nʌʔ né·.
 but PTCL that not that.one
 ‘(So then you turn on a light, it illuminates the whole house; if you turn on a light.) But not that one.’ Verland Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 112 (17))

⁷We do not provide a line that segments words into morphs for examples that contain only uninflected words or where inflected words are not analyzed.

- (40) Yah ki? né·n í· lake?níha.
 not in.fact PTCL 1 my.father
 ‘(Your father is mean.) Not my father.’
- (41) yah kwí· né· shekú né·n é·lhal yah tha·hakwe·ní·
 yah kwí· né· shekú né·n é·lhal yah th-aa-ha-kweni-?
 not PTCL ASRT even PTCL dog not CNTR-OPT-3M.SG.A-able-PNC
 aa·lake? ni·yót.
 aa-hla-k-e? ni·yót
 OPT-3M.SG.A-eat-PNC how.it.is
 ‘not even a dog could eat it, how it was.’ Clifford Cornelius (Michelson
 et al. 2016: 225 (53))

Sometimes it is a whole proposition that is denied, as in (42); hence the English translation ‘it wasn’t the case.’

- (42) Ok ne? thó·ne? yah nΛ? né·,
 but at.that.time not that’s.it
 ‘(Even to cut wood you have to have an education.) But at that time it
 wasn’t the case,’ Clifford Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 236 (116))

The negative particle *yáhta?* ‘not so’ also functions to deny an entire proposition; but it appears additionally to be anaphoric. In other words, *yáhta?* seems to function as a negative propositional anaphor (43–45).⁸

- (43) Nók tsi? sáha? ki? yah te?kattókhahkwe? kwí·
 nók tsi? sáha? ki? yah te?-k-attok-hahkwe? kwí·
 but more actually not NEG-1SG.A-be.wise-HAB.PST PTCL
 utahséhtahkwe? ok oni? n yáhta?,
 u-t-a-hs-ehthahkw-e? ok oni? n yáhta?
 OPT-CIS-OPT-2SG.A-believe-PNC and or PTCL not.so
 ‘But even more I had no sense, you can believe it or not,’ Clifford Cornelius
 (Michelson et al. 2016: 228 (74))

⁸ *Yáhta?* is the word for ‘no’ in the Wisconsin variety of Oneida, and is clearly related to *yah*. This is the only context where *yáhta?* is attested in our corpus of the Ontario variety of Oneida.

- (44) Nók tsi? ne? thó·ne? yah kwí· náhte? got no brain. Shekú núwa?
 but at.that.time not PTCL anything got no brain still this.time
 né· yáhta?.
 ASRT not.so
 ‘But back then I didn’t have any brains. I still don’t.’ Verland Cornelius
 (Michelson et al. 2016: 320 (82–83))
- (45) Tá·t yáhta? ḷhotiná·khwa? ki?,
 tá·t yáhta? ḷ·hoti·na?khwa·? ki?
 if not.so FUT-3M.PL.P-get.mad-PNC actually
 ḷyesaná·khwahse? tá·t yah tha·shni·nú·.
 ḷ·yesa·na?khwa·a·hs·e? tá·t yah th·aa·hs·hninu·?
 FUT-3>2SG-get.mad-JOIN-BEN-PNC if not CNTR-OPT-2SG.A-buy-PNC
 ‘If not, they’ll get mad, they will get mad at you if you won’t buy it.’
 Verland Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 326–327 (146))

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Scope is generally left-to-right in Oneida. This is shown with the quantificational word *akwekú* ‘all, the whole of’ in the two contrasting examples below (46–47).

- (46) Yah akwekú te?shakokwáhtu.
 yah akwekú te?-shako-kwaht-u
 not all NEG-3M.SG>3-invite-STAT
 ‘He didn’t invite all of them, everyone.’
- (47) nḷ kyuni? wí· né· akwekú yah kánike?
 nḷ ki?-uni? wí· né· akwekú yah kánike?
 now in.fact-too PTCL ASRT all not anywhere
 te?sha·né·se?.
 te?-s·hḷn·e·?se?
 NEG-RPT-3M.PL.A-walk,go-HAB
 ‘(It used to be just [names],) they’re all not around anymore.’ Pearl
 Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 309 (112))

However when eliciting examples like these, speakers generally reject the order attested in (47). In this example those who are no longer around were identified in the preceding discourse. Out of context, though, speakers prefer to use

a negative indefinite expression (see §4.2), as in (48) ('not anyone' rather than 'everyone not'). Or a close (though not exact) equivalent of *akwekú*, *kwah tsi? nihati* can be used, as in (49).

- (48) yah né· úhka? tha·yesa·kÁ.
 yah né· úhka? th-aa-yesa-kA-?
 not ASRT anyone CNTR-OPT-3>2SG-see-PNC
 'nobody will see you.' Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 128 (16))
- (49) Kwah tsi? nihati yah
 kwah tsi? ni-hat-i yah
 just how PAR-3M.PL.A-make.up.the.whole.of[STAT] not
 tehone·ká·se? onu?úseli?
 te-hon-eka?-se? onu?úseli?
 NEG-3M.PL.P-like.the.taste-HAB squash
 'However many there are (all of them) don't like squash.'

A contrast in scope is also attested with the modal verb *-atu-* 'possible, can be' (see §2.2 for additional examples of this verb). In the excerpt in (50), the speaker is talking about something which is not possible, but in (51) the speaker is talking about the possibility of a negative situation.

- (50) yah kwí· thau·tú· óksa?
 yah kwí· th-aa-w-atu-? óksa?
 not PTCL CNTR-OPT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC right.away
 a·kyatekhu·ní·
 aa-ky-atekhuni-?
 OPT-3FZ.DU.A-eat.a.meal-PNC
 'they couldn't eat right away' Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 50 (3))
- (51) Né· tsi? Awa·tú· se? yah
 né· tsi? A-w-atu-? se? yah
 ASRT COMP FUT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC EMPH not
 tha·hotiyo·tÁ.
 th-aa-hoti-yotA-?
 CNTR-OPT-3M.PL.P-work-PNC
 'Because it's possible for them not to work.' Verland Cornelius
 (Michelson et al. 2016: 328 (156))

4.2 Negative polarity

In Oneida, indefinite expressions form a paradigm with words that are used in content questions and that we analyze as negative polarity items. These are: *úhka?* ‘anyone, who?’ *náhte?* ‘anything, what?’, *kátsha?* ‘anywhere, where?’, *kánhke* ‘anytime, when?’, and *tó·* ‘how’ (used in questions having to do with manner and quantity, such as ‘how long ...’). Some of these are followed in some contexts by particles which have a classificatory function, such as *nú·* in *kátsha? nú·* ‘when?’ The particle *ok* (otherwise ‘only, and’) forms corresponding indefinite expressions, such as *úhka? ok* ‘someone,’ *tok náhte?* or *thok náhte?* ‘something,’ *kátsha? ok nú·* ‘somewhere.’ Indefinite expressions in Oneida thus make use of both major kinds of “derivational bases” identified in Haspelmath (1997: 26): words used in content questions and generic ontological classifiers. Negative indefinites are expressed using standard clausal negation, i.e. the negative particle *yah* and the negative form of the verb together with a negative polarity item in the scope of *yah*, as in (52) and (53). The excerpt in (54) is a negative indefinite with *táka?*, used in prohibitives (see §2.2 on non-declarative negation.)

- (52) *Yah úhka? te?yé·tlu?*
yah úhka? te?-ye-i?tlu-?
 not anyone NEG-3FIA-sit,stay-STAT
 ‘Nobody lived there,’ Mercy Doxtator (Michelson et al. 2016: 143 (6))
- (53) *Yah ki? ní· nuwátú náhte? te?yukyatkáthu í· khále?*
yah ki? ní· nuwátú náhte? te?-yuky-atkath-u í· khále?
 not actually 1 ever anything NEG-1DU.P-see-STAT 1 and
 Masyha,
 Masyha
 dear.Mercy
 ‘But the two of us never ever saw anything, me and Mercy,’ Olive Elm
 (Michelson et al. 2016: 64 (24))
- (54) *wahatá·liste? táka? úhka? a·yehlotá*
wa-h-atahlist-e? táka? úhka? aa-ye-hlotá
 FACT-3M.SG.A-forbid-PNC don’t anyone OPT-3FIA-smoke[IMP]
 tho kanúsku
 tho kanúsku
 there in.the.house
 ‘he tells people no one should smoke in the house’ Mercy Doxtator
 (Michelson et al. 2016: 186 (16))

The contrast between *yah úhka?* ‘not anyone’ (‘no one’) in (55) and *úhka? yah* ‘anyone not’ in (56) shows the expected scopal relation of the negative polarity item with the negation.

- (55) *Yah úhka? te?yakonúhte?*
yah úhka? te?-yako-anuhte-?
 not anyone NEG-3FL.P-know-STAT
 ‘No one knows.’ Margaret Antone (Michelson et al. 2016: 177 (47))
- (56) *úhka? yah tha-yutawya?tá-na?*
úhka? yah th-aa-yu-atawya?tahn-a?
 anyone not CNTR-OPT-3FL.A-go.to.school-PNC
 ‘[if] anyone wouldn’t go to school,’ Verland Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 328 (160))

In addition to questions and clausal negations, NPIs occur with the particle *ati* ‘no matter, never mind, although,’ which does not require a negative verb, but whose meaning suggests that no one or nothing can be excluded from the situations being described. Examples are the excerpts in (57) and (58).

- (57) *Tsi? kwí· né· nihoya?tase?tslaká·te?,* *ati*
tsi? kwí· né· ni-ho-ya?tase?tsl-a-ka?te-? *ati*
 COMP PTCL ASRT PAR-3M.SG.P-girlfriend-JOIN-have.many-STAT no.matter
né· úhka? á-ne? kih.
né· úhka? aa-hn-e-? ki?
 ASRT anyone OPT-3M.DU.A-go-PNC actually
 ‘He had so many girlfriends, he would go out with just anybody (nevermind who).’ Georgina Nicholas (Michelson et al. 2016: 32 (6))
- (58) *tsi? ati úhka? ʌhakwe·ní· ki?*
tsi? ati úhka? ʌ-ha-kweni-? ki?
 COMP no.matter anyone FUT-3M.SG.A-able-PNC actually
ʌhoyo·tá· tsi? náhte? wakyó·tʌhse?
ʌ-ho-yotʌ-? tsi? náhte? wak-yo?tʌ-ʔse?
 FUT-3M.SG.P-work-PNC COMP anything 1SG.P-work-HAB
 ‘because anybody (no matter who) could do the work that I worked at.’
 Clifford Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 233 (101))

Two additional NPIs: *nuwʌtú* ‘ever,’ and *kánike?* ‘nowhere’ have a more restricted distribution in that they cannot co-occur with the PTCL *ok* to form indefinite expressions. The NPI *nuwʌtú* ‘ever’ occurs only in polar questions (59)

and in negative clauses (60) and (61). *Kánike?* occurs only in negative clauses (62). Examples (61) and (62) have two negative polarity items in the same clause. (Another example with *kánike?* is (47) in §4.1.)

- (59) NΛ kΛ nuwΛtú Tony Roma's yesatekhu-ní.
 nΛ kΛ nuwΛtú Tony Roma's ye-s-atekhuni
 now Q ever Tony Roma's TRL-2SG.P-eat.a.meal[STAT]
 'Have you ever eaten at Tony Roma's?'
- (60) Kwáh yah nuwΛtú tha?teyukyatlíhotálhu,
 kwáh yah nuwΛtú th-a?te-yuky-atlíhotálh-u
 just not ever CNTR-DLC-1DU.P-quarrel-STAT
 'We never ever quarreled,' Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 147 (8))
- (61) Né·n yah ki? nuwΛtú úhka? te?shakohlo-lí.
 né·n yah ki? nuwΛtú úhka? te?-shako-hloli
 PTCL not actually ever anyone NEG-3M.SG>3-tell[STAT]
 'He never told anyone.' Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 78 (48))
- (62) wé·ne tsi? yah úhka? kánike? té·yahse?.
 wé·ne tsi? yah úhka? kánike? te?-yΛ-e-?se?
 evidently COMP not anyone anywhere NEG-3FIA-walk,go-HAB
 'must be that there was no one there.' Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 77 (33))

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

The occurrence of referring expressions (nouns or noun phrases) in the scope of negation does not affect how they are expressed.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The so-called assertion particle *né·* occurs widely in Oneida; much remains to be understood about this particle, but one of its functions is to signal (narrow) focus, as in the following excerpt:

- (63) A: Wá·lelhe? né· kΛ n swahyo·wáne?, ohnaná·ta? nΛ? né·.
 he.thought ASRT Q PTCL apple potato that.one
 'He thought it was an apple, it was a potato.'

B: Ohnaná-taʔ.

potato

‘A potato?’

A: Há·, ohnaná-taʔ né· lonaskwáhatiʔ.

yes potato ASRT he.is.going.along.stealing

‘Yes, he was stealing a potato.’ Pearl Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 303 (50–52))

The particle *né·* occurs in negative contexts, as in the second clause in the excerpt in (64).

- (64) né· kwí· tsiʔ teki·táheʔ seʔ niʔí·, yah né·
 né· kwí· tsiʔ te-k-itá-heʔ seʔ niʔí· yah né·
 ASRT PTCL COMP DLC-1SG.A-fly-HAB EMPH 1, not ASRT
 tha·hatikwe·ní· ta·hati·tá· thiká tho
 th-aa-hati-kweni-ʔ t-aa-hati-tá-ʔ thiká tho
 CNTR-OPT-3M.PL.A-able-PNC DLC-OPT-3M.PL.A-fly-PNC that there
 thá·né·seʔ,
 t-hán-e-ʔseʔ
 CIS-3M.PL.A-walk,go-HAB
 ‘because me too, I fly, they can’t fly, the ones who are walking around
 over there,’ Ruben Cutcut (Michelson et al. 2016: 36 (8))

NPIs generally occur in focus position, after the negative particle *yah*, and in appropriate pragmatic contexts the order of NPIs and the modal verb *yah thau·tú·* ‘can’t’ (§2.2) can interact to encode two distinct meanings. In (65) the speaker cannot do anything because there is nothing to do, with the NPI in narrow focus position, while in (66) the speaker cannot do anything because, say, s/he hasn’t gotten permission.

- (65) Yah náhteʔ thau·tú· na·kátyeleʔ.
 yah náhteʔ th-aa-w-atu-ʔ n-aa-k-atyel-eʔ
 not anything CNTR-OPT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC PAR-OPT-1SG.A-do-PNC
 ‘I can’t do anything, there’s nothing I can do.’
- (66) Yah thau·tú· náhteʔ na·kátyeleʔ.
 yah th-aa-w-atu-ʔ náhteʔ n-aa-k-atyel-eʔ
 not CNTR-OPT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC anything PAR-OPT-1SG.A-do-PNC
 ‘I can’t do (e.g. I’m not allowed to do) anything.’

Finally, this might be a good place to mention the emphatic word for ‘no’ *ta-ím*, although it does not appear to be used very often. The excerpt below comes from a conversation about how poor many of the Oneida were when they were growing up; one of the two speakers observes that in spite of what they now know to be true (that they were poor), that’s not what they thought of their situation at the time. The other speaker responds saying *ta-ím*, agreeing with the observation (that they didn’t think they were poor).

- (67) Nók tsi? thiká ne? thó-ne? tshiwathawinúti?, yah ki? nuwatú
 but that at.that.time during.those.times not actually ever
 a?nyóh né· te?twanuhtúnyuhe? tsi? niyukwá-tát.
 seems.like ASRT we.don’t.think how we.are.poor
 ‘But back in those times, we never seemed to think that we were that
 poor.’ Pearl Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 304 (63))

4.5 Negation, coordination, and complex clauses

In this section we provide examples of clauses describing exceptions to a generalization, the equivalent of English uses of ‘except’ and ‘instead of.’ We also discuss here a phenomenon to which we have assigned the term *negative spreading*.

We begin with coordination, and in particular with exception clauses. When the first clause includes the equivalent of universal quantification, as in (68) and (69), the exception clause has just the negative particle *yah* or *yáhtá?* (see §3.4 for other contexts that have only the negative particle).

- (68) Kwah tsoyók niwahyó-táhse? wake-ká-se? nók tsi? yah ki?
 just all different.kinds.of.fruit I.like.the.taste but not actually
 né-n raspberries.
 PTCL raspberries
 ‘I like the taste of (I like to eat) every kind of fruit, but not raspberries
 (except for raspberries).’
- (69) Akwekú wá-lake? kwah nók ohnaná-ta? yáhtá?
 all he.ate just potato(es) not.(so)
 ‘He ate it all, just not the potatoes (except for the potatoes).’

In the coordination in (70) the negative clause comes first and is expressed as the usual standard negation, with both negative PTCL and negative prefix on the verb.

- (70) Yah náhte? oyá· tehawekú kwah nók ohnaná·ta?
 yah náhte? oyá· te-haw-ek-u kwah nók ohnaná·ta?
 not anything other NEG-3M.SG.P-eat-STAT just potato(es)
 ‘He didn’t eat anything else, just the potatoes.’

A positive situation that is an alternative to a non-event is expressed as comparison (‘rather than, as compared with’), as in (71).

- (71) a. Sarnia yahá·le? tsi? ni·yót London.
 Sarnia he.went.over.there COMP how.it.is London
 ‘He went to Sarnia rather than (instead of) London (Ontario).’
 b. Sálha? lahnΛ·yés tsi? ní· ni·yót.
 more he.is.tall COMP 1 how.it.is
 ‘He is taller than I am.’

Finally, the closest equivalent to the English coordinator ‘lest’ includes the particle *tákΛ?*; see examples in §2.2.

We now turn to a different phenomenon, which we call “negative” spreading”. As we have seen so far, Oneida is a language where clausal negation involves the simultaneous expression of two morphs (particle and prefix), or *double negation*. But, under certain conditions not completely understood at this time, two verbs occur with a negative prefix; yet only one instance of the particle *yah*. Some examples of this are given below.

It appears that negative spreading is required with certain expressions of quantity, extent, or manner (72–75).⁹

- (72) tá·t núwa? yah tho té·ku tehoti·yÁ· atáhsli?,
 tá·t núwa? yah tho te?·ku te·hoti·yΛ·? atáhsli?
 maybe not thus NEG-amount NEG-3M.PL.P-put,have-STAT stick(s)
 ‘maybe they didn’t have enough sticks,’ Mercy Doxtator (Michelson et al. 2016: 258 (76))

⁹Some of the forms in the examples require explanation for those interested in details that go beyond negation. In (72) the verb root of *té·ku* is *-u-* ‘be amount, amount to.’ The prefix *k-* is an anomalous form. In (73) the idea of ‘every’ is conveyed by the verb *-ke-* ‘amount to’ plus the translocative and dualic (and sometimes also the partitive) prefixes.

- (73) Yah *thyaʔtewΛhnislaké*
 yah th-y-aʔte-w-Λhnisl-a-ke
 not CNTR-TRL-DLC-3Z/N.SG.A-day-JOIN-amount.to[STAT]
teʔwakyó·tΛhseʔ.
 teʔ-wak-yoʔtΛ-ʔseʔ
 NEG-1SG.P-work-HAB
 ‘I don’t work everyday.’
- (74) Yah *tho teʔyo·lé.*
 yah tho teʔ-yo-le-ʔ
 not thus NEG-3Z/N.SG.P-how.far-STAT
thaʔteyakonuhsanú·yaniht tsiʔ ni·yót *yesaʔkáha.*
th-aʔte-yako-nuhs-anuhyaniht tsiʔ ni·yót *yesaʔkáha*
 CNTR-DLC-3FI.SG.P-house-be.dirty[STAT] COMP how.it.is your.older.sister
 ‘Her house is not as dirty as your older sister’s.’
- (75) yah ní· *teʔwakΛʔnhá·u* a·kka·látuʔ, yah *tho*
 yah ní· *teʔ-wak-Λʔnhaʔ·u* aa-k-kalatu-ʔ, yah *tho*
 not 1 NEG-1SG.P-know.how-STAT OPT-1SG.A-tell.stories-PNC not thus
té·yot tsiʔ *teʔwakatatlihunyΛ·ní.*
teʔ-yot tsiʔ *teʔ-wak-atat-lihunyΛni*
 NEG-3Z/N.SG.A-how.it.is[STAT] COMP NEG-1SG.P-REFL-teach[STAT]
 ‘I don’t know how to tell stories, that’s not the way I taught myself.’
 Hazel Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 181 (15))

4.6 Other aspects of negation

4.6.1 Non-negative uses of negation

There are two negative expressions in Oneida that have a positive import: *yah teʔwé·ni* (*yah teʔwé·ne* for some speakers) ‘it is amazing, incredible’ and *yah thya·ya·wÁ· tsiʔ* ‘it has to be, it is necessary, must.’ The first expression, in (76), is based on the verb *-é·ni/-é·ne-* ‘be evident’, which occurs most frequently as a particle in the form *wé·ni/wé·ne* ‘evidently, must be, I guess.’ The second expression, *yah thya·ya·wÁ· tsiʔ*, in (77), is based on the root *-Λ-* ‘happen,’ which, in this meaning, occurs with the contrastive prefix (serving as the exponent of the negative feature) and translocative prefix.

- (76) Yah teʔwé·ni naʔukniká·tɬneʔ
yah teʔ-w-eʔni n-aʔ-yukni-kaʔt-ɬ-neʔ
not NEG-3Z/N.SG.A-be.evident[STAT] PAR-FACT-1DU.P-have.a.lot-INCH-PNC
porridge thiká neʔ thó-neʔ,
porridge thiká neʔ thó-neʔ
porridge that at.that.time
'It's incredible (lit. It's not evident) what a lot of porridge we got at that time,' Clifford Cornelius ([Michelson et al. 2016](#): 223 (37))
- (77) Yah tha·ya·wá· tsiʔ Muncey
yah th-y-aa-yaw-ɬ-ʔ tsiʔ Muncey
not CNTR-TL-OPT-3Z/N.SG.P-happen-PNC that Muncey
yɘhɘ·ké.
yɘh-ɘ-k-e-ʔ
TRL-FUT-1SG.A-walk.go-PNC
'I have to (lit. It can't happen) go to Muncey.' Norma Kennedy ([Michelson et al. 2016](#): 92–93 (11))

4.6.2 A note on the distribution of the negative vs. contrastive

Standard negation in Oneida is expressed with a negative particle and a prefix on the verb, either the negative or the contrastive. This structure occurs with verbs in all three verbal aspects (habitual, stative, punctual). The punctual aspect requires one of three modes – future, factual, or optative – and only the optative can be negated. Typically, a verb that would otherwise occur in the future mode is negated with the optative, and a verb that otherwise occurs in the factual mode is negated with the stative aspect.

It is important, for the appropriate classification of Oneida, to come back to a point that we made in §2.1 at the beginning of this paper – the need to distinguish features from their exponents. The negative and contrastive prefixes both occur in the same “slot” or “position class” in the verb structure of Oneida, the word-initial slot. Prefixes that occur in the same slot cannot both have an overt realization – complementary distribution and competition for expression are defining characteristics of a position class morphology. Since contrastive meaning is never negated, as noted in §2.1, the negative and contrastive prefixes do not compete for expression – the exponent of the contrastive simply occurs when the negative prefix cannot. There are two additional prefixes that occur in the word-initial slot, the partitive and the coincident. Here we briefly mention what happens when verb forms with the partitive or coincident are negated. When a

verb that otherwise requires the partitive is negated, the negative exponent occurs at the expense of the partitive. Thus in (75) *yah tho té-yot* ‘that’s not how it is’ has the negative prefix *teʔ-* (or *té-* under accent); the positive form *tho ni-yót* ‘that’s how it is’ has the partitive prefix *ni-*. Likewise, the verb form *té-ku* in *yah tho té-ku* ‘not enough’ in (72) includes the negative prefix when otherwise (in the positive) the same verb occurs with the partitive, *tho níkú* ‘that’s how much, that’s enough.’ In contrast, a verb that otherwise has the coincident keeps the coincident when negated. In the example in (78) the negative particle is *ahsuhká*, mentioned in §2.1 as one of the less common negative particles, but the verb form *tshiyukwa-yá* has the exponent for the coincident feature *tshi-* rather than the negative’s exponent (see Diaz et al. 2019 for details).

- (78) Khále? ahsuhká tshiyukwa-yá. wí. n hydro.
 khále? ahsuhká tshi-yukwa-yá-? wí. n hydro
 and not.yet COIN-1PL.P-put,have-STAT PTCL PTCL hydro
 ‘And it was before we had hydro.’ Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016:
 73 (5))

4.6.3 Diachronic and comparative notes and observations

It is intriguing that the contrastive serves as an exponent of the negative feature. This is the case in all the Northern Iroquoian languages that have double negation (all the languages except Tuscarora, where standard negation is expressed with several different particles, without a verbal prefix). In fact, at least in Oneida, and probably in the other languages too, the contrastive prefix occurs with far greater frequency as an exponent of the negative feature than of just the contrastive feature.

In all the languages, the contrastive prefix expounds the negative feature in the optative mood.¹⁰ In Oneida (and Mohawk) the contrastive exponent occurs also with the dualic prefix; see example (4b) given in §2.1 at the beginning of this paper. In Onondaga and Seneca, however, an allomorph *t-* of the negative occurs with the dualic prefix. Thus in Oneida and Mohawk, the contrastive plus dualic is *thaʔt-* but in Onondaga and Seneca it is *taʔt-* (written *daʔ-* in the contemporary orthography).

In all the languages except Mohawk (where the form of the negative is *te-* rather than *teʔ-*), outside of its co-occurrence with the optative, the exponent of the contrastive “overlaps” with the translocative. (The term *overlap* is due to

¹⁰In Seneca, according to Chafe (2015: 54), the negative prefix, as well as the contrastive, can occur with the optative.

Chafe 2015: 53.) For example, in Oneida, as shown in (79) and (80), the contrastive plus translocative is *thye?*- where it is difficult to uniquely identify which portion is contrastive and which translocative. If it were not for the presence of the glottal stop in *thye?*-, the form would be analyzed easily as the contrastive *th*- plus translocative *ye*-. In Onondaga (Woodbury 2018: 186–187) and Seneca (Chafe 2015: 53) the form of the translocative is *h*-, and combined with the negative there is also overlap in these languages: *the?*-. It is interesting that the translocative exponents are quite different in the two sets of languages, yet in all four languages there is overlap with the negative.

- (79) Tahnú· kwí· yah thye?shuwahálú,
 Tahnú· kwí· yah thye?-s-huwa-hál-u
 and PTCL not NEG.TRL-RPT-3>3M.SG-call,summon-STAT
 ‘And she didn’t call him back,’ Mercy Doxtator (Michelson et al. 2016: 140 (5))

- (80) Yah ki? nuwátú kwa?ahsuté-ke tho nú·
 yah ki? nuwátú kwa?ahsuté-ke tho nú·
 not actually ever nighttime that’s where
 thye?tsyukne-nú.
 thye?-ts-yukn-e-nu
 NEG.TRL-RPT-1DU.P-walk,go-STAT
 ‘We never went there again at night-time.’ Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 95 (39))

5 Conclusion

In Table 1 we summarize in expressions of negation in Oneida.

Table 1: Expressions of negation in Oneida

Type of negation	Formatives	Form
Standard negation	PTCL ...NEG _V	<i>yah ...teʔV</i>
	PTCL ...CONTR _V	<i>yah ...thV</i>
Negative replies	PTCL	<i>táh</i> ‘no’ <i>áhsu kiʔ</i> ‘not yet in fact’ <i>yáhtΛʔ</i> ‘not so’
Negative imperatives	PTCL ...FUT _V	<i>tákΛʔ ...ΛV</i>
Negative prohibitives	PTCL ...PPT _V	<i>tákΛʔ ...aaV</i>
Equatives and category membership	PTCL ...NEG _V /CONTR _V	<i>té·kΛ</i>
Other stative predications	See standard negation	

As we have detailed in this chapter, Oneida’s expression of negation involves both an independent word (usually the particle *yah*) and a negative prefix on verbs or the word *té·kΛ*. In other words, Oneida’s expression of negation is an example of double clausal negation. Overall, negation in Oneida is uniform across phrases and clauses, and the relation between scope and negation is also uniform. But, the expression of negation in Oneida is remarkable for at least the following three reasons. First is the complexity of its morphological expression, including the fact that both the negative and the contrastive prefixes are exponents of the negative feature. Second are the restrictions on scopal relations that negation can enter into. In particular, it seems that the negative particle *yah* must occur to the left of any operator or predicate it scopes over, and inverse scope is not allowed. The third is that Oneida includes a series of ontologically general words that are used both as negative polarity items and serve as the basis of the “derivation” of corresponding indefinites expressions.

Acknowledgements

As with all of our collaborative work, the order of authors is alphabetical. We acknowledge with gratitude the late Mercy Doxtator, the late Norma Kennedy, and Olive Elm, with whom Michelson has discussed negation in Oneida (and, as it turns out, in English) and who provided some of the examples. We are also grateful to Ryan DeCaire from Wahta Nation in Ontario and Sheri Beglen from

Oneida Nation in New York, who learned Mohawk and Oneida as adults, for discussions about some of the structures described in this paper.

Abbreviations

1	first person	INCH	inchoative
2	second person	JOIN	joiner
3	third person	LOC	locative
A	agent	M	masculine
ASRT	assertion	N	neuter
BEN	benefactive	NEG	negative
CAUS	causative	NMLZ	nominalizer
CIS	cislocative	NS	noun suffix
COIN	coincident	OPT	optative
COMP	complementizer	P	patient
CONT	continuative	PAR	partitive
CNTR	contrastive	PL	plural
DISTR	distributive	PNC	punctual aspect
DLC	dualic (or duplicative)	POSS	possessive prefix
DU	dual	PST	past
EMPH	emphatic particle	PTCL	particle
EXCL	exclusive	Q	polar question particle
FACT	factual mode	REFL	reflexive
FI	feminine-indefinite	RPT	repetitive
FUT	future	SG	singular
FZ	feminine-zoic	SREFL	semi-reflexive
HAB	habitual aspect	STAT	stative aspect
IMP	imperative	TRL	translocative
		Z/N	(default) feminine-zoic

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Negation in Kashaya

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Negation in Kashaya, a Native North American language, is described based on a textual corpus. The main strategies for clausal negation are a negative verb suffix and a negative clitic, and I show that their distribution can be predicted to a large extent from the inflectional form of the verb. Negation of nominal and adjectival predicates, as well as constituent negation, employs the negative clitic. A special negative existential verb is employed to negate existential and locative predications. I pay special attention to a non-negative use of the negative clitic, which is used to form (positive) indefinite pronouns, a phenomenon that, to my knowledge, has not been described for any other languages.

Keywords: Pomoan languages, negation, evidentiality, switch-reference, indefinite pronouns.

1 The language

Kashaya (ISO: **kju**, Glottocode: **kash1280**) belongs to the Pomoan family, a small family of Northern California consisting of seven closely related languages. The traditional Kashaya territory is in Sonoma County, just north of the San Francisco Bay. The language is critically endangered with a small number of speakers remaining (Golla 2011: 111). In this chapter, I describe negation in the language based on the fully segmented and interlinearised corpus made available in Buckley (2019), a resource based on the 82 texts collected in Oswald (1964) (and 8 texts from Halpern 1940). The structure of the chapter follows the Negation Questionnaire designed by the editors of this volume.

The primary research on Kashaya was undertaken in the late 1950s by Robert L. Oswald, whose grammar (Oswald 1961), text collection (Oswald 1964) and dictionary manuscript (Oswald n.d.) are the main sources on the language. Oswald's grammar focuses on morphophonological processes and morphotactics, and with

the exceptions of e.g. the evidentials (Oswalt 1986) and the switch-reference system (Oswalt 1983), many areas of Kashaya morphosyntax remain unexplored. Later research has primarily concerned theoretical aspects of the intricate morphophonology of the language (e.g. Buckley 1994a,b, 1997).

Kashaya has relatively free word order, although SOV dominates. Verb morphology is mostly suffixing. There is no participant indexing (i.e. person/number agreement) on the verb, but there is rich derivational and inflectional encoding of manner, direction, aspect, tense, evidentiality and a range of other categories.

The suffixes are organised according to a system of position classes in Oswalt (1961) and Buckley (1994b). One of the position classes, labelled CLASS XIV in Oswalt (1961), deserves mention here. This position class contains the largest number of suffixes, and one suffix from this class has to be present in every verb. Some common suffixes from this class have evidential and modal meanings. In contexts in which none of these suffixes are appropriate, speakers resort to a default-like suffix that Oswalt (1961) labels the “Absolute”. The exact meaning of this highly frequent suffix, at least in its uses on main clause verbs, is unclear to me. It is also used to form deverbal nouns, and provides the citation form of verbs. As pointed out by Walker (2016), Oswalt’s term is somewhat confusing for a modern reader, so I opt for Walker’s more informative label DEFAULT VERBAL SUFFIX (abbreviated DVS). In the nominal domain, case marking distinguishes semantic agent from patients (cf. §4.3).

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

2.1.1 Overview of the standard negation constructions

Two options exist for negating declarative verbal main clauses. The first option is to add the negative clitic *=t^hin* to the verb. A declarative main clause is given in (1), and a negated clause, with the same verb (*?du-cic*- ‘know’) is given in (2), illustrating the negative clitic option.¹

¹An identifier at the start of every example indicates the source: KT for the *Kashaya Texts* (Oswalt 1964) and H for the materials in Halpern (1940); the following numbers indicate text, paragraph and sentence, so ‘KT 3:19.11’ for the 11th sentence in the 19th paragraph in the 3rd of Oswalt’s texts. Examples labelled Kashaya Dictionary are taken from Oswalt (n.d.). A preliminary online version of the dictionary is being prepared by Gene Buckley, and can be accessed at <https://www.webonary.org/kashaya/>. The first line of the example sentences provides the original orthography. The second line provides a morphemic analysis (based on Buckley 2019). Note that clitics (such as the negative *=t^hin*) are written as separate orthographic words in the

- (1) [...] he· q'óʔo hlaw ʔdu·ciʔ
 he· q'óʔo hlaw ʔdu·ciç'-ʔ
 and song also know-DVS
 '...and [they] know songs too.' (KT 47:9.3)
- (2) [...] ʔa mu ʔcayʔ yacoʔk^he q'óʔo ʔ'o dú·ciʔ t^hin
 ʔa mu =ʔcayʔ =yacoʔk^he q'óʔo =ʔʔ'o ʔdu·ciç'-ʔ =t^hin
 1SG.NOM that =person =POSS song =EMPH know-DVS =NEG
 '[However] I don't know his song.' (KT 17:11.2)

The second option is to add the negative suffix *-t^h* to the verb, as in (3) and (4).

- (3) “be·li ʔ'o ma·dú·t^he·” nihciʔ
 be·li =ʔʔ'o ma·duc-t^h-a-e· nihciç'-ʔ
 here =EMPH one.arrive-NEG-VIS.IPFV-NFNL say.PL.AGT-DVS
 ‘‘He hasn't come here,’’ they said.’ (KT 58:6.5)
- (4) “ʔacaʔ t'aʔt^hé· to” nihcedu
 ʔaca·c t'a·d-t^h-a-e· to nihced-u
 person feel-NEG-VIS.IPFV-NFNL 1SG.ACC say-DVS
 ‘‘I didn't think it was a person’’ [he said].’ (KT 45:16.4)

The factors that determine the choice between the clitic *=t^hin* and the suffix *-t^h* are described in §2.1.2. The impact of negation on the aspectual value of the verb is described in §2.1.3. The expression of 'not yet' is described in §2.1.4.

2.1.2 The distribution of *=t^hin* and *-t^h* as clausal negators

The two options differ rather dramatically in frequency in corpus data. Table 1 shows counts performed on the corpus. In the 933 instances of negation that were extracted, the suffixal negative *-t^h* accounted for only 11.1% of the attestations, while the negative clitic *=t^hin* accounted for the remaining 88.9%.²

first line, but indicated by means of equal signs in the second line. In the Kashaya orthography, <ɬ> is the dental plosive, <ɮ> is the alveolar plosive, <ʃ> is the palatal fricative, <c> is the alveopalatal affricate, and <y> is the palatal approximant. The raised dot, as in <a·>, marks a long vowel. Other symbols have the same values as their IPA equivalents.

²This number excludes prohibitives (§2.2). It also excludes the positive indefinite pronouns, which are formed by adding the negative clitic to question words, as discussed in §4.6.1.

Table 1: Frequencies of negative structures

Syntactic context				Morphological context		
Suffix <i>-t^h</i>	Verb	104	(100%)	V-NEG-EVID	31	(29.8%)
				V-NEG-COND	24	(23.0%)
				V-NEG-RESP	16	(15.4%)
				V-NEG-SR	33	(31.7%)
				104		(100%)
Total:		104	(11.1%)			
Clitic <i>=t^hin</i>	Verb	644	(77.6%)	V-DVS =NEG	415	(64.4%)
				V-FUT =NEG	219	(34.0%)
				V-SR =NEG	9	(1.3%)
				V-GRL.INTV =NEG	1	(0.2%)
				644		(100%)
Non-verb		185	(19.8%)			
Total:		829	(88.9%)			
Total:		933	(100%)			

SR = any of the switch-reference suffixes; EVID = any of the evidential suffixes

Both syntactic and morphological context seem to determine the speakers’ choice between the suffixal and clitic options. The clitic *=t^hin* accepts any part of speech as its host, whereas the suffix *-t^h* is restricted to verbal morphology. I extracted 185 instances of *=t^hin* attached to non-verbal hosts (mostly noun phrases; see further §2.3 and §4.1) accounting for about a fifth of its uses. The remaining 644 instances of *=t^hin* attached to verbs, where it is in competition with the suffix *-t^h*.

The choice between *=t^hin* and *-t^h* in verbal contexts depends largely on the form of the verb, and more specifically on which of the suffixes in Class XIV is used on the verb. Here I will show that certain suffixes, such as the evidentials and the Conditional *-iʔba*, only occur with suffixal negation, whereas others, such as the Future suffix *-ʔk^he* and the Default Verbal Suffix *-w*, only occur with the negative clitic. The suffixes marking switch-reference on subordinate (adverbial) clauses occur with both options.

First, I will consider the rich evidential system of Kashaya (Oswalt 1986). Table 2 lists suffixes with evidential functions, plus the ‘Inferential’ *-bi*, which seems to have mirative rather than evidential semantics. The labels are self-explanatory

Table 2: The Kashaya evidential suffixes

	IPFV	PFV
Performative	-(w)ela	-mela
Visual	-w(a)	-y(a)
Auditory	-inn(a)	
Circumstantial	-q(a)	
Hearsay		-do
Inferential		-bi

except for the ‘Performatives’, which “signify that the speaker knows of what he speaks because he is performing the act himself or has just performed it” (1986: 34).³ Note that some evidentials alternate according to the aspectual value of the verb (either imperfective or perfective), which will be relevant for the discussion of aspect and negation in §2.1.3.

The corpus data show that verbs containing an evidential suffix are negated by means of the suffix *-t^h*, and not by the clitic *=t^hin*. Of the 31 negated verbs with evidential specification in Table 1, all exhibit the suffixal option.⁴ The relatively low number of negated verbs inflected with evidentials in the corpus makes it difficult to interpret the significance of the association between evidentials and suffixal negation, however, and the grammar (Oswalt 1961) does not clarify whether the negative clitic is disallowed or merely dispreferred with verbs marked by evidential suffixes.⁵

Consider next the use of the Default Verbal Suffix. The sparsity of verbs directly inflected for evidentiality finds its correlate in the frequent use of this suffix (which seems to contribute no meaning of its own) in the text corpus. As pointed out by Oswalt (1961: 239), verbs with the Default Verbal Suffix can only be negated by means of the clitic *=t^hin*. Such verbs constitute the overwhelmingly most common type of negated verb in Table 1, with 415 corpus attestations.

³The evidential pair *-(w)a* and *-(y)a* are called “Factual” and “Visual”, respectively, in Oswalt (1961) and Buckley (1994b), and “Visual-Factual” and “Visual” in Oswalt (1990). I prefer to use the Visual label for both suffixes and distinguish them by their aspectual value.

⁴An assessor correctly points out that the evidential suffixes are not consistently segmented in Buckley (2019). This problem was easily solved by manually inspecting the 104 verbs with suffixal negation that were extracted.

⁵I was able to identify about two dozen additional examples of negated verbs marked for evidentiality in the dictionary manuscript (Oswalt n.d.), all of which occurred with the suffixal option.

There are good reasons to suspect that the prevalence of (negated and non-negated) verbs marked with the Default Verbal Suffix, and the relatively low number of verbs bearing evidential suffixes, is an artefact of the type of materials represented in the corpus. The texts contained in the corpus mostly feature monologic narrative discourse, and it seems that the use of evidential suffixes in this text type is very different from their use in spontaneous, interactive speech. Narrative discourse typically makes use of what *Oswalt (1986: 34)* refers to as the NARRATIVE CONSTRUCTION. In this mode, the Hearsay evidential *-do* is suffixed to the Assertive (a defective, auxiliary-like verb), which is added after a demonstrative element (e.g. *mul* ‘that’), and such chunks, which can be glossed as ‘it is said that’, are typically sprinkled throughout the paragraphs, whereas the main verb in each sentence is suffixed with the Default Verbal Suffix. This has the consequence that verbs directly suffixed with evidentials are comparatively rare in the textual corpus (except in reported speech), while verbs with the Default Verbal Suffix are comparatively common. It is therefore likely that a corpus consisting of a larger portion of interactive speech would have contained more verbs directly suffixed with evidentials, and hence more instances of the suffixal negator *-t^h*.

In the corpus, negated verbs with evidential suffixes are mostly attested in direct speech, as in (3) and (4) above. It is interesting to note that verbs that are directly suffixed by means of the Hearsay evidential are more common in the older sections of the corpus, in the texts collected by Abraham Halpern in the 1940s. In these texts, one finds examples such as (5), with the suffixal negator attached to a verb directly inflected for Hearsay evidentiality.

- (5) *cuʔt'ém^hido soh ʔac^huláʔ soh his'u· ʔel*
cuʔt'em-t^h-do soh ʔac^hulaq-ʔ soh his'u· =ʔel
 shoot-NEG-HRSY just miss.PL-DVS just arrow =ACC
 ‘But they didn’t hit him; the arrows just missed.’ (H 4:3.6)

The third domain of verb morphology to consider is future tense marking. The most common markers of future tense are the Future suffix *-ʔk^he*, which expresses e.g. planned, predicted and intended events, as in (6), and the Performative Intensive suffix *-te*, which only expresses intentions of the speaker, seen on the first verb in (7).

- (6) ʔama hc^hóc'k^he ʔdo· yal
 ʔama· hc^hoc-ʔk^he ʔ-do-e· yal
 land disappear-FUT ASRT-HRSY-NFNL 1PL.ACC
 'We have heard our world is coming to an end.' (KT 66:2.6)
- (7) sáhqaʔte· ʔa ʔacaʔ duhk^huyá·dal ʔa
 sahqac'-te-e· ʔa ʔaca·c duhk^huy-ad-a-el ʔa
 quit-PRFM.INTV-NFNL 1SG.NOM person kill-DUR-VIS.IPFV-ACC 1SG.NOM
 ʔacaʔ bimucí·dal
 ʔaca·c bimucid-a-el
 person eat-VIS.IPFV-ACC
 'I am going to quit killing people and eating them.' (KT 6:9.8)

Negated clauses with future time reference seem to be formed only with the Future suffix *-ʔk^he*, as in (8) and (9), and never with the Performative Intensive suffix.⁶ A verb suffixed with *-ʔk^he* can only be negated with the clitic *=t^hin*, and not with the suffix *-t^h* (Oswalt 1961: 258).

- (8) ʔama hc^hóc'k^he t^hin [...]
 ʔama· hc^hoc-ʔk^he =t^hin
 land disappear-FUT =NEG
 'The world isn't going to end [...].' (KT 66:13.2)
- (9) bihk^húyʔk^he t^hin qahmulʔk^hé· ya mito
 bihk^huy-ʔk^he =t^hin qahmu-l-ʔk^he-e· ya mito
 eat.up-FUT =NEG leave.food-FUT-NFNL 1PL.NOM 2SG.ACC
 'We won't eat it up; we'll save some for you.' (KT 10:11.5)

The Future suffix *-ʔk^he* also has more broadly modal uses, most prominently in a construction in which it combines with negation to express inability, 'cannot', as described in §2.6. The Future suffix is very frequent in the corpus, and it is frequent in negated contexts. Its incompatibility with the negative suffix *-t^h* contributes to the high frequency of the clitic *=t^hin* in Table 1.

Two additional suffixes occur only with suffixal negation: the Conditional *-iʔba* and the Responsive *-em*. The Conditional, illustrated in (10), has various modal

⁶ Another suffix, the General Intensive *-ti*, occurs in some subordinate clause types. It occurs negated in the formation of negative purpose clauses, as described in §2.4.3.

Table 3: Summary of main types of negated verbs: the suffix *-t^h* vs. the clitic *=t^hin*

Class XIV-suffix on the verb	Negator	
	<i>-t^h</i>	<i>=t^hin</i>
Evidential suffixes	✓	
Default Verbal Suffix		✓
Future <i>-ʔk^he</i>		✓
Conditional <i>-iʔba</i>	✓	
Switch-reference suffixes	✓	✓

meanings relating to ability and epistemic possibility (see also §2.4.1 and §2.6). The uses of the Responsive seem to relate to information structure (cf. Oswalt 1961: 283, Olsson 2010: 32–34), but I leave the functions of this suffix, and its interaction with negation, for future research.

- (10) buṭaqa t^hin he· buṭaqá p^hiʔyaht^hiʔba, [...]
 buṭaqa =t^hin =he· buṭaqa p^hiʔya·q-t^h-iʔba
 bear =NEG =or bear recognise.by.sight-NEG-COND
 ‘Whether it was a bear or not a bear couldn’t be told just by looking, [...].’
 (KT 44:2.6)

Table 3 summarises the choice between suffixal and clitic negators, according to the form of the verb (excluding the Responsive and the General Intensive; for the latter, see §2.4.3). Overall, verbs marked with the Future tense *-ʔk^he* or the Default Verbal Suffix account for almost all instances of the clitic *=t^hin* in verbal contexts in the corpus. I am not aware of any synchronic explanation for the patterning of the negative clitic with certain verb suffixes, and the negative suffix with others, which seems to be an arbitrary quirk of the grammar. Negation in non-verbal clauses exclusively employs the negative clitic, as will be seen in §2.3.

Note finally that both the suffixal and clitic options are attested in switch-reference clauses, as discussed further in §2.4.2.

2.1.3 Negation and aspect

Aspect is an important component of Kashaya verb morphology. Oswalt (1990) describes the central opposition as one between perfective and imperfective. Many verb roots are inherently perfective or imperfective, others are aspectually neutral. Various derivational suffixes (typically with directional semantics: ‘up’, ‘away’

etc.) have perfectivising or imperfectivising functions and can be used to derive a new verb with a different aspectual profile than that of the root (somewhat suggestive of Slavic aspectual systems). Whether a verb form is perfective or imperfective is most clearly seen from some of the evidential suffixes in Table 2. The Performative and the Visual evidentials occur in pairs in which one member combines with a perfective verb and the other with an imperfective verb (aspectually neutral roots without derivational markers can combine with either member, depending on the meaning that the speaker wants to convey).

But the aspectual potential of verbs is limited when the verb is negated: a verb suffixed with the negative $-t^h$ can only combine with the imperfective members of the Visual and Performative evidentials (Oswalt 1961: 244–246). The minimal triplet in (11) is taken from Oswalt (1990: 45). The aspectually neutral root ‘pack’ can in the affirmative combine with either the perfective or imperfective Performative suffixes (11a–11b). Under negation, only the imperfective variant is possible (11c).⁷ This triplet is given without context in the source (and is probably elicited), but I have not found any counterexamples to this pattern in the corpus. The neutralisation of the perfective/imperfective contrast is a clear example of paradigmatic asymmetry under negation (cf. Miestamo 2005: 54; see also Miestamo & van der Auwera 2011 for the interaction between negation and aspect cross-linguistically).

- (11) a. qowáhmela
 qowaq-mela
 pack-PRFM.PFV
 ‘I just packed (a suitcase).’
 b. qowáqala
 qowaq-ela
 pack-PRFM.IPFV
 ‘I am packing (a suitcase).’
 c. qowáht^hela
 qowaq-t^h-ela
 pack-NEG-PRFM.IPFV
 ‘I am not packing.’

⁷Oswalt does not say explicitly whether (11c) can also have past time reference, i.e. ‘I didn’t pack’, but this seems to be implied by his discussion of these examples. There are only 6 corpus attestations of the negated Performative, and none of them has unambiguous past time reference, so these attestations shed no light on the issue. Note that (40) below does not have unambiguous past time reference, despite its English translation (‘We haven’t hid anybody’) which could be rendered in the present without change in meaning (‘We aren’t hiding anybody.’).

Note that the aspectual membership of the roots (and derivational suffixes) does not affect their combinability with negation. Any type of verb root or derived verb can be negated, but the resulting form is always treated as imperfective by the evidential suffixes that are sensitive to this distinction. It is not clear whether negation by means of the clitic =*t^hin* has any consequences for aspect. The evidential suffixes that reveal the aspectual profile of a verb form do not combine with the negative clitic =*t^hin* (as discussed above), so there is no way of finding this out.

Other than the restriction against the perfective members of those evidential pairs that show a perfective/imperfective contrast, I am not aware of any morphological asymmetries between negative and affirmative verbs.

2.1.4 Negation and phasal markers

Many languages employ non-compositional expressions for ‘not yet’. In Kashaya, the negative continuative ‘not yet’ is expressed compositionally, by simply negating the continuative adverbial *?o?* ‘still’ (root /*?oc*/), i.e. ‘still not’. Compare the affirmative clause in (12) with the negated clauses in (13) and (14).

- (12) *mi-me? ?’o ?o? ?aca? muk^húy?tahqaw*
mi-meṭ =?’o ?oc ?aca-c muk^huy?tahqa-w
 at.that.time EMPH still person burn.PL-DVS
 ‘At that time they still cremated people.’ (KT 45:11.1)

- (13) *?o? da·bíc^hqaw ?t^hin*
?oc da·bic^hqa-w ?=t^hin
 still a.few.go.up-DVS ASRT=NEG
 ‘They had not yet started to go.’ (KT 5:6.2)

- (14) *?ó? mi?daq^han? ma·du·t^hehni*
?oc mi-?daq^han? ma·duc-t^h-a-e-=hni
 still 2-husband.NOM arrive-NEG-VIS.IPFV-NFNL=Q
 ‘Didn’t your husband return yet?’ (KT 14:7.3)

Expressing ‘not yet’ as ‘still not’ is common cross-linguistically, see e.g. Veselina & Devos (2021) for Bantu languages.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Positive imperatives are formed by suffixing the verb with *-i* (for a singular addressee) or *-me* (plural addressee, and polite imperative used with in-laws). A glottal stop is often added at the end of the command, as in 15.⁸

- (15) talá·mec'i mi· tow ?
 htala·mec'-i mi· =tow =?
 climb.down-IMP there =from =CMND
 'Climb down from there!' (KT 21:5.4)

Negative imperatives are expressed by means of the suffixes *-t^hu* (for a singular addressee) or *-t^hume*, plus the glottal stop at the end of the clause. Examples are in (16) and (17). In the descriptions of Kashaya morphophonology in [Oswalt \(1961\)](#) and [Buckley \(1994b\)](#), the negative suffix *-t^h* is treated as having a special allomorph *-t^hu*, which only occurs before the Singular Imperative *-i* (which does not surface) and the Plural Imperative *-me*. I opt for a less abstract description here and treat them as dedicated prohibitive suffixes.

- (16) qaʔc'áʔt^hu?
 qaʔc'aʔ-t^hu=?
 cry-PROH=CMND
 'Don't cry!' (KT 9:7.10)

- (17) bahcil hayómt^hume?
 bahcil hayom-t^hume=?
 far many.go.here.and.there-PROH.PL=CMND
 [Their mother told them:] 'Don't go far!' (KT 7:4.4)

The negative clitic *=t^hin* does not occur in prohibitives.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Stative verbs, such as 'know' in (2), are negated using the same two options as other verbs in the language. In this section, I describe the negation of nominal and existential predications.

⁸See [Buckley \(1994b: 335–336\)](#) and [Buckley \(2015\)](#) for the distribution of the final glottal stop, here given the separate gloss CMND, as in 'command'.

2.3.1 Nominal and adjectival predication

Nominal and adjectival predication is expressed without any lexical verb. Usually, the copula- or auxiliary-like Assertive element =? is present in the clause. The Assertive can act as a host to inflectional morphology that would otherwise have been borne by a full lexical verb (such as evidentials, but typically only the ‘Non-Final Verb’ suffix *e*). Negation is expressed by attaching the negative clitic =*tʰin* directly to the relevant noun phrase. Nominal predication illustrating proper inclusion (‘X is a Y’) is in examples (18) and (19). The negative suffix *-tʰ* is not used in non-verbal clauses.

- (18) ʔama· dunawá·du hqal e· maʔu dúwi
 ʔama· dunawa·du hqal =ʔ-a-e· maʔu duwi
 cheater =ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL this.NOM coyote
 ‘This Coyote is a cheater.’ (KT 4:8.2)
- (19) ʔa· ʔ'o walé·pu tʰin e muʔnati
 ʔa· =ʔʔ'o wale·pu =tʰin ʔ-a-e· muʔnati
 1SG.NOM =EMPH feather.sorcerer =NEG ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL but
 ʔa ku·yi cadu ʔé· wale·pu
 ʔa· ku·yi cad-u ʔ-a-e· wale·pu
 1SG.NOM once see-DVS ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL feather.sorcerer
 ‘I am not a walépu but I once saw one.’ (KT 40:1.2)

The same structure is used in contexts of negated equation ('X is not Y'), as in (20), and negated adjectival predication, as in (21).

- (20) meʔe tʰin e· mu
 meʔe =tʰin ʔ-a-e· mu
 2.father.NOM =NEG ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL that.NOM
 ‘He is not your father.’ (KT 13:2.3)
- (21) a. pišun é· mu
 pišun =Ø-a-é· mu
 strange =ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL that
 ‘It is strange.’
- b. pišún? tʰin e· mu
 pišún? =tʰin =Ø-a-e· mu
 strange =NEG =ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL that
 ‘It is not strange.’ (Kashaya dictionary, entry *pišun?*)

2.3.2 Locative and existential negation: *c^how* ‘not exist’

Location and existence can be predicated by means of the semantically general verb *ʔi* ‘be, remain’, as illustrated in (22), or by more specific positional verbs (‘sit’, ‘stand’, etc.).⁹

- (22) ʔahca· hiʔbayá ʔiw
 ʔahcaw hiʔbaya ʔi-w
 in.house man be-DVS
 ‘There is a man in the house.’ (Kashaya Dictionary, entry *ʔi*)

A special verb is used for the negation of locative and existential clauses: *c^how* (from the root /hc^ho-/), which I gloss as ‘not exist’. Example (23) shows a negated locative predication, and (24) a negated existential. Dedicated negative existentials such as Kashaya *c^how* are common cross-linguistically (see Veselinova 2013).

- (23) mi-meʔ miyá·konʔ ʔaca· c^how
 mi-meʔ miya·ko·nʔ ʔaca· hc^ho--w
 at.that.time 3-sister’s.husband.NOM at.home not.exist-DVS
 ‘At that time, his sister’s husband was not at home.’ (KT 12:11.1)

- (24) mi-meʔ ʔ'o ʔacaʔ c^how
 mi-meʔ =ʔ'o ʔaca·c hc^ho--w
 at.that.time =EMPH person not.exist-DVS
 ‘At that time, there were no human beings.’ (KT 1:3.1)

Possessive predication is expressed by means of the proprietive postposition =*q'o* ‘with, having’. There are two competing options for the negative equivalent: the negative existential verb *c^how* ‘not exist’, or the privative postposition =*c^hoʔ* ‘without’ (phonemic /c^hot/). A minimal triplet is in (25). See also §3.3.

- (25) a. pé·su q'o ʔe· ya
 pé·su =q'o =ʔ-a·e· ya
 money =with =ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL 1PL.NOM
 ‘We have money.’
 b. pé·su c^howé· yaʔk^he
 pé·su hc^ho--wa·e· yaʔk^he
 money not.exist-VIS.IPFV-NFNL 1PL.OBL
 ‘We don’t have money.’

⁹The textual corpus contains no clear instances of purely locational (‘the cat is on the mat’) or existential (‘there are ghosts’) predications in the affirmative; but their negated counterparts, as described in this section, are amply attested.

- c. pé.su c^hot'e· ya
 pe.su =c^hot =ʔ-a-e· ya
 money without =ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL IPL.NOM
 'We don't have money.' (Kashaya Dictionary, entry *q'o*)

The privative =c^hoʔ 'without' is probably related to the root of 'not exist', /hc^ho-/. Some other forms that seem to be derivationally related to /hc^ho-/ are in Table 4. The verb root /hc^hoc/ in (b–d) is probably derived from the negative existential /hc^ho-/ 'not exist' by suffixation of the Semelfactive -c, literally 'start to not exist'.

Table 4: Expressions related to /hc^ho-/ 'not exist'

	Expression	Analysis	Meaning
a.	<i>c^ho·nati</i>	/hc ^h o·-nati/ not.exist-CONC.SS	'barely'
b.	<i>bahc^hobáhch^hoʔ</i>	/ba-hc ^h oc/ [MOUTH-disappear]	'wear away with mouth'
c.	<i>c^hoyíʔ</i>	/hc ^h oc-ic'/ [disappear-REFL]	'die'
d.	<i>c^hoyic'qa</i>	/hc ^h oyic'-hqa/ [die-CAUS]	'kill'

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

2.4.1 Complement clauses

Complement clauses of verbs such as 'want', 'know' and 'say' differ from independent main clauses in their strictly verb-final constituent order (this is a feature they share with other types of subordinate clauses in Kashaya) and in the limited morphological possibilities of the subordinate verb (Olsson 2010). The subordinate verb in such clauses is always suffixed with the Default Verbal Suffix, or, if the clause has future or modal semantics, a suffix such as the Future -ʔk^he or (more rarely) Conditional -iʔba. As pointed out in §2.1.2, the Default Verbal Suffix and the Future suffix are incompatible with the negative suffix -t^h and only allow negation by means of the clitic =t^hin. The Default Verbal Suffix and the Future are the overwhelmingly most common suffixes on verbs in complement clauses, so it follows that the most common negation strategy in complement clauses is the clitic =t^hin, as in (26).

- (26) ?ul duwe lébat^hem? qowíc^kh^e t^hin šiyi?
 ?ul duwe lebat^hem? hqowic-?k^he =t^hin hšiyic'-?
 then [midnight return-FUT =NEG] say.about.self-DVS
 'He said that he would not go back home until midnight.' (KT 3:12.4)

The negative suffix *-t^h* is used if the subordinate verb is marked by the Conditional *-i?ba*, since this suffix permits suffixal negation (27). This shows that the preference for *=t^hin* in complement clauses is not a direct consequence of their status as non-main clauses, but depends on which suffix marks the subordinate verb.

- (27) [...] dú-ci? mul ?aca? ya? he?en dac^hací?t^hi?ba [...] [...]
 ?du·cic'-? mul ?aca·c =yac he?en dac^hac-ic'-t^h-i?ba
 know-DVS [that person =AGT how steal-REFL-NEG-COND]
 '[Then the boss had the Indians guard it,] knowing that Indians wouldn't steal it [...]' (KT 64:15.3)

2.4.2 Switch-reference clauses

Kashaya has an extensive system of switch-reference suffixes that are used to form clause chains ('X happened, then Y happened, and then Z happened') or adverbial-like clauses ('if X happens, then Y happens'). Descriptions of the Kashaya switch-reference system are in [Oswalt \(1961, 1983\)](#) and [Olsson \(2010: 35–44\)](#). Switch-reference clauses can be negated by the suffix *-t^h*, as in (28) and (29), or by the clitic *=t^hin*, as in (30). The counts in Table 1 show that the suffixal option is somewhat more common in the corpus.

- (28) ma mo?ó?tat^hip^hila ?a· ?é·
 ma mo?o?ta-t^h-p^hila ?a· =?·a·e·
 2SG.NOM whip.with.stick-NEG-IRR.DS 1SG.NOM =ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL
 ma·dal ci·c'in?k^he
 ma·dal ci·c'id-?k^he
 3SG.F.ACC do-FUT
 'If you don't whip her, I'll do it.' (KT 29:4.1)

- (29) ... maʔa cóʔdoʔ tiya·col hqayíʔt^heti
 maʔa coʔdoq-ʔ tiya·col hqayic'-t^h-eti
 food give.several-DVS 3PL.REFL.ACC ask.for.PL-NEG-CONC.DS
 '[...] and [they] gave them food even though they didn't ask for it.' (KT 57:10.4)

- (30) mulido mul ma·dúʔli t^hin k'eša·c'iwaʔ [...]
 mulido mul ma·duc-ʔli =t^hin k'e·š-ac'-iwac'-ʔ
 it.is.said that one.arrive-SEQ.DS =NEG search-along.PL-DISTR.PL-DVS
 'When he did not return home, they searched far and wide [...].' (KT 52:2.2)

I have not been able to find any semantic difference that explains the choice between suffixal and clitic negation of switch-reference clauses. The only exception is the use of the negative clitic =t^hin in (31), which presumably is motivated by the clause being in the scope of replacive focus. The intended meaning is 'not because I happened to feel like it', whereas the use of the negative suffix -t^h probably would correspond to the reading 'because I didn't feel like it'.

- (31) mul cáhnoʔte· ʔa bíhqatol nihín
 mul cahno-d-te-e· ʔa bihqatol nihin
 that talk-PRFM.INTV-NFNL 1SG.NOM at.this.time to.self
 t'alahqaba t^hin
 t'ala-hqa-ba =t^hin
 start.to.feel-CAUS-SEQ.SS =NEG
 'I must say this at this time not because I just happen to feel like it.' (But because I've been told by God.) (KT 78:6.4)

The use of the negative clitic on constituents within narrow scope is further discussed in §4.1.

2.4.3 Negative purpose: 'lest'-clauses

Purpose clauses are signalled by the Purposive suffix -ti on the verb (Olsson 2010: 39). Only one example of a clause expressing negative purpose has been found in the corpus, and it is formed by means of the standard Purposive -ti followed by the negative clitic =t^hin (32).

- (32) [...] hiʔbayá ʔel ma·caʔ tiyá·coʔk^he his'u· ʔel ʔul ʔi·
 hiʔbaya =ʔel ma·cac tiya·coʔk^he his'u· =ʔel ʔul ʔi·
 man =ACC 3PL.NOM 3PL.REFL.POSS arrow =ACC already all
 doʔq'óʔdiwaʔ ma·c'ic^hqati t^hin
 doʔq'óʔdi-wac'-ʔ ma·c'ic-qa-ti =t^hin
 prepare-DUR.PL-DVS one.arrive.PL.AGT-CAUS-PURP =NEG
 '[Then] the menfolk prepared their arrows so as to prevent [the giant]
 from coming in.' (KT 21:10.4)

2.5 Negative lexicalisations

No clear examples of inherently negative lexical items have been found. Possible exceptions (admittedly more grammatical than lexical) are the verb *c^how* 'not exist' and the postposition *=c^hoʔ* 'without', as discussed in §2.3.2. Another candidate is *naʔbaʔ* 'not know how' (root /naʔbac/), but the few attestations of this verb make it impossible to decide whether it is truly inherently negative. (See also §3.1 for the answers 'no' and 'I don't know'.)

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions: The inability construction

Ability – 'can, be able to' – is mainly expressed by suffixing the verb with the Conditional *-iʔba* or Future *-ʔk^he* (Oswalt 1961: 251, 257). Interestingly, inability is expressed not by simply negating such expressions, but by negating them and adding an interrogative word, typically *heʔen* 'how', to the clause. The presence of the interrogative word makes the structure a non-compositional counterpart of positive expressions of ability (which occur without an interrogative word), and the structure must therefore be considered a separate construction. The inability construction is very frequent in the corpus; examples are in (33) and (34). In fact, instances of this construction are much more frequent than expressions of (positive) ability, which often seems to be expressed implicitly (i.e. 'I see' rather than 'I can see').

- (33) heʔen mu·kinʔ hiʔda daʔt'áʔk^he t^hin
 heʔen mu·kinʔ hiʔda daʔt'a-ʔk^he =t^hin
 how 3SG.M.NOM path find-FUT NEG
 'He couldn't find the trail.' (KT 27:4.6)

- (34) [...] mens'in ya heʔen bayatáʔk^he t^hin ma-caʔk^he ya
 mens'in ya heʔen bayataq-ʔk^he =t^hin ma-caʔk^he ya
 and 1PL.NOM how understand.PL-FUT =NEG 3PL.OBL 1PL.NOM
 kúʔmul s'iʔi ʔnati
 kuʔmul s'iʔi ʔ-nati
 same flesh ASRT-CONC.SS
 '[Other people have different languages] and we can't understand theirs
 even though we are of one flesh.' (KT 2:8.7)

Interrogative expressions such as *ciba* 'who' function as negative indefinite pronouns in negated clauses ('nobody' etc.; see §3.2 below), so *heʔen* 'how' should perhaps be interpreted as meaning something like 'in no way' in these contexts. But *heʔen* 'how' is usually omitted if some other interrogative expression is present, as in (35) and (36), so the generalisation seems to be that the expression of inability requires some interrogative word to be present, with the default being *heʔen* 'how'.

- (35) hiʔdi ʔahq^ha daʔt'áʔk^he t^hin
 hiʔdi ʔahq^ha daʔt'a-ʔk^he =t^hin
 where water find-FUT =NEG
 'He couldn't find water anywhere.' (KT 2:9.4)
- (36) muʔnati ciba· mul cac'k^he t^hin
 muʔnati ciba· mul cac'-ʔk^he =t^hin
 but who that see.PL.AGT-FUT NEG
 'But nobody can see that.' (KT 37:7.3)

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

One-word replies to polar questions are: *hu-ʔ* 'yes', *da*· 'no' (and *huhu*· 'I don't know'). If the question is negated, as in (37a), the reply *da*· 'no' disagrees with the content of the question, not with its polarity: in (37b) Cricket Woman is replying that her husband did not return home.

(37) partly repeated from (14)

- a. “ʔóʔ miʔdaq^hanʔ ma·du·t^hehni” hcedu
 ʔoc mi-ʔdaq^hanʔ ma·duc-t^h-a-e·=hni hced-u
 still 2-husband.NOM arrive-NEG-VIS.IPFV-NFNL=Q say-DVS
 ‘[He] asked, “Didn’t your husband return yet?”’
- b. “dá·” cedu t^hoʔo·koyʔmenʔ
 da· hced-u t^hoʔo·koyʔ-menʔ
 no say-DVS cricket-FEMALE.NAME
 “No,” said Cricket Woman.’ (KT 14:7.3–4)

Positive replies to negative questions use *hu·ʔ* ‘yes’. In (38), the verb from the question is repeated, but this is not an obligatory feature of positive replies to negative questions (see e.g. KT6:4.11).

- (38) a. [...] “ma t^ho šo·me q’oʔo dú·ciʔ t^hin
 ma =ʔt^ho šo·me q’oʔo ʔdu·cic’-ʔ =t^hin
 2SG.NOM =EMPH younger.sister.VOC song know-DVS =NEG
 ehni men ʔbak^he” [...]
 ʔ-a-e·=hni men =bak^he
 ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL=Q thus for
 ‘[Then his mother said to my grandmother,] “Sister, you don’t know a
 song for that, do you?”’
- b. mulido “hú·ʔ dú·cic’em ʔa ʔa” nihcedu
 mulido hu·ʔ ʔdu·cic’-em =ʔa ʔa nihced-u
 it.is.said yes know-RESP =FOC 1SG.NOM say-DVS
 “Yes, I know one,” she replied.’ (KT 41:11.2)

3.2 Negative indefinites

Like in many other languages, interrogative expressions such as *ciba·* ‘who’ are used as negative indefinites in negated clauses, as in (39–41). There is no ambiguity with content questions, because in content questions the Interrogative *-wa* is present in the clause (Oswalt 1961: 286).

- (39) ciba· duyáʔtaw ʔt^hin
 ciba· duyáʔta-w ʔ=t^hin
 who help-DVS ASRT=NEG
 ‘Nobody helped him.’ (KT 2:4.2)

- (40) cibál ya q'awá·c'i·t^hela
 ciba·l ya q'awa·c'ic-t^h-ela
 who.ACC 1PL.NOM hide.PL-NEG-PRFM.IPFV
 'We haven't hid anybody.' (KT 16:12.6)

- (41) mulido baq'o maci·bi? t^hin
 mulido baq'o ma·c-ibic-? =t^hin
 it.is.said what burn-INCEP-DVS =NEG
 'Nothing started to burn.' (KT 16:14.3)

As seen in (42), interrogatives have the negative indefinite meaning in clauses with *c^how* 'not exist' too, which shows that this verb must be regarded as inherently negative.

- (42) hm̃... ?aca? mihšewé. [...] c^ho·wé. cibá· [...]
 hm̃ ?aca·c mihše-wa-e. hc^ho·-wa-e. ciba·
 hm̃ person smell-VIS.IPFV-NFNL not.exist-VIS.IPFV-NFNL who
 '“Hmm, I smell a person” [said Eagle]. “There is no one” [said Old Lady Kestrel].’ (H 4:6.5)

Unfortunately, there is no data showing whether the negative indefinite use of interrogatives extends across clause boundaries, i.e. whether one can say (the equivalent of) 'I don't think *who* helped him' to mean 'I don't think anybody helped him' (so called indirect negation).

A remarkable feature of Kashaya is that the formation of positive indefinite pronouns also involves negation: these are formed by adding the negative clitic directly to the question words, as described in §4.6.1.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

The only known item that can be said to express negative meanings on the phrasal level is *c^ho?* 'without' (§2.3.2), as in (43). This utterance is an example of standard non-verbal predication (as discussed in §2.3 above), with the postpositional phrase *s'a?sa c^ho?* 'clean' (lit. 'without dirt') functioning as the predicate. All examples of such expressions that I found are use predicatively (either as non-verbal predicates or as depictive secondary predicates), so it is not known if these expressions can be used attributively, as adnominal modifiers ('a clean cloth').

- (43) mu ʔo s'aʔs'a c^hoʔ
 mu =ʔʔo s'aʔs'a =c^hot
 that =EMPH dirt without
 'It was not dirty.' (KT 5:4.5)

Some expressions containing *c^hoʔ* 'without' are in Table 5, taken from Oswalt (n.d.). It is not known to what degree these are established idioms or nonce creations.

Table 5: Expressions with *c^hoʔ* 'without'

Expression	gloss	meaning
<i>maʔa c^hoʔ</i>	food without	'hungry'
<i>šimamo c^hoʔ</i>	inner.ear without	'flirtatious man'
<i>ciliʔ c^hoʔ</i>	be.worth without	'cheap'
<i>cahno c^hóʔ</i>	speech without	'quiet'
<i>ʔama c^hiyaʔ c^hoʔ</i>	thing be.afraid without	'brave, fearless'

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

There appear to be several options for narrowing down the scope of negation to a specific constituent. The most frequent option is to mark the constituent in the scope of negation directly, by means of the negative clitic =*t^hin*. In (44), the expression *ʔacaʔ* 'person, people' is negated directly, as it is in the scope of contrastive negation.

- (44) mens'iba miq^hama-tow ʔʔo mul ʔacaʔ t^hin nihciʔ šiʔbaši
 mens'iba miq^hama-tow =ʔʔo mul ʔaca-c =t^hin nihciʔ-ʔ šiʔbaši
 and.then after.that =EMPH that person =NEG say.PL.AGT-DVS animal
 nihciʔ
 nihciʔ-ʔ
 say.PL.AGT-DVS
 'Thereafter they weren't called people; they were called animals.' (KT 10:22.8)

Second, focus particles (usually the Emphatic focus particle =ʔo) can be used, as in (45).

- (45) da·qáʔ tʰin ku ʔo
 da·qac'-ʔ =tʰin ku =ʔo
 want-DVS =NEG one =EMPH
 'He did not want just one.' (i.e., he wanted several) (KT 4:9.4)

Finally, constituent focus can be expressed with standard clausal negation, as in (46). Prosodic prominence is perhaps relevant for the interpretation of such utterances.¹⁰

- (46) [...] ma·caʔ ʔo mul ʔacaʔ s'iʔi bimuyiʔ tʰin, bihše máʔyul
 ma·cac =ʔo mul ʔaca·c s'iʔi bimuyic'-ʔ =tʰin bihše maʔyul
 3PL.NOM EMPH that person flesh eat.PL-DVS =NEG deer only
 bimuyiʔ [...]
 bimuyic'-ʔ
 eat.PL-DVS
 '[...] they didn't dine on human flesh; they only ate meat [...]' (KT 6:2.3)

See also the discussion of negative scope in complex clauses in §4.5.

4.2 Negative polarity

No idiomatic negative polarity items of the type *lift a finger* are attested in the textual corpus or in the Kashaya Dictionary. The use of interrogatives as negative indefinites under negation was noted in §3.2.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Like the other languages of the Pomoan family, Kashaya has a case system based on semantic alignment (see e.g. Mithun 1991). The Nominative case clitic =ʔem marks NPs expressing agent-like participants (e.g. the sole argument of an agentive verb such as 'dance') and the Accusative =ʔel marks patient-like participants (e.g. the sole argument of a patientive verb such as 'die'). Certain expressions, such as personal pronouns, kinship terms, and clausal nominalisations, are obligatorily marked for case (marked by suffixes rather than clitics). Lexical NPs

¹⁰Oswalt's original recordings are archived in the Survey of California and Other Indian Languages (<http://cla.berkeley.edu/collection/11055>), but analysis of the interaction between prosody and negation was outside the scope of this study.

seem to be case-marked under discourse conditions that are not yet well understood, but it seems to be mainly referential, definite NPs that are marked for Nominative and Accusative case. These principles seem to be at work in negated clauses too, so a definite NP such as ‘the bear’ in (47) is overtly marked by case, whereas a non-referential NP such as ‘water’ in (35) above is unmarked for case.

- (47) miq^hamá·to· buṭaqá ʔel caʔ t^hin
 miq^hama·tow buṭaqa =ʔel cac’-ʔ =t^hin
 after.that bear =ACC see.PL.AGT-DVS =NEG
 ‘After that the bear was never seen again.’ (KT 5:19.5)

At present, then, there is no evidence suggesting that case marking is affected by negation, but this conclusion must be regarded as preliminary pending more work on case marking in Kashaya.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Reinforcing or minimising expressions such as ‘(not even) one’ or ‘(not even) a little’ are formed with the element *-nati* (usually attached to the Assertive ʔ), as in (48) and (49). (*-nati* is also a concessive marker meaning ‘although’.)

- (48) kú ʔnati dacew ʔt^hin
 ku ʔ-nati dace-w ʔ=t^hin
 one ASRT-even catch-DVS ASRT=NEG
 ‘They didn’t catch even one.’ (KT 59:12.12)

- (49) qawí ʔnati maʔal miʔk^he míht^he di·c’íʔt^huʔ
 qawi ʔ-nati maʔal miʔk^he mi·ht^he di·c’-id-t^hu =ʔ
 little ASRT-even this.ACC 2SG.POSS 2-mother tell-DUR-NEG =IMP
 ‘Don’t breathe a word to your mother.’ (KT 29:14.2)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

The main strategy for coordinating complex clauses is the system of switch-reference, as discussed in §2.4.2. I already discussed negation of the non-main clauses in such constructions; here I will add some information about the scope that negation takes when it is expressed in the main clause. There are two possibilities for an utterance containing a switch-reference clause and a main clause

in which the main verb is negated. Either the main clause negation has scope only over the main clause, as in (50a), or over both clauses, as in (50b).

- (50) Having done A, I NEG did B.
 a. ‘I did A, and I didn’t do B.’
 b. ‘I didn’t do A, and I didn’t do B.’

Both of these options are frequent in the corpus. Examples of negation with scope over only the main clause, as in (50a) above, are in (51) and (52).

- (51) “bihše boʻoba ma-dú·t^he.” nihcedu
 bihše boʻo-ba ma-duc-t^h-a-e· nihced-u
 deer hunt-SEQ.SS one.arrive-NEG-VIS.IPFV-NFNL say-DVS
 “‘Having gone hunting, he didn’t come back,” she said.’
 (NOT: ‘He didn’t go hunting, and he didn’t come back’) (KT 7:3.5)
- (52) maʔa ʔel dahólmadun daʔtʻaci-du t^hin men haʔdá·
 maʔa =ʔel dahol-m-ad-in daʔtʻa-cid-u =t^hin men haʔdaw
 food =ACC search-ESS-DUR-SIM.SS find-DUR-DVS =NEG thus hungry
 cací-du
 ca-cid-u
 sit-DUR-DVS
 ‘While searching for food [the child] wouldn’t find it; it sat hungry.’
 (NOT: ‘When it didn’t search for food, it didn’t find it’) (KT 51:3.2)

An example of negation with scope over both the main clause and the switch-reference clause, as in (50b) above, is in (53).

- (53) mens’in ʔdú·cic’e· ʔa be·li ʔa q^haʔbe
 mens’in ʔdu·cic’-a-e· ʔa be·li ʔa q^haʔbe
 and know-VIS.IPFV-NFNL 1SG.NOM here 1SG.NOM rock
 cí·p^hi t’et^hmaʔk^he t^hin
 ci·c’-p^hi t’e·t^hma-ʔk^he =t^hin
 become-IRR.SS one.stand-FUT =NEG
 ‘I know that I am not going to turn into a rock and stand here.’
 (NOT: ‘...that when I have turned into a rock, I won’t stand here.’) (KT 78:15.7)

Similar cases of flexibility in the interpretation of negative scope have been noted for other languages with switch-reference systems (e.g. Reesink 2002: 258–259).

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Non-negative uses of negation: indefinite pronouns

The standard indefinite pronoun series in Kashaya are formed by adding $=t^h\text{in}$, i.e. the negative clitic, to the interrogatives, as shown in Table 6. Thus, *ciba· t^hin* ‘someone’ is literally ‘who not’ and *baq’o t^hin* ‘something’ is literally ‘what not’. Indefinite pronouns that are based on interrogative pronouns are very common cross-linguistically (e.g. Haspelmath 1997), but the combination of interrogative pronouns with negation to form positive indefinite pronouns has not been documented in the literature,¹¹ and is indeed a very surprising feature of the language.

Table 6: Interrogatives and indefinites

Interrogative	Indefinite
<i>cibá·</i> ‘who’	<i>ciba· t^hin</i> ‘someone’
<i>baq’ó</i> ‘what’	<i>baq’o t^hin</i> ‘something’
<i>buté·</i> ‘when’	<i>bute· t^hin</i> ‘sometimes’
<i>bét’bu</i> ‘how many, how much’	<i>bét’bu t^hin</i> ‘a few, some’
<i>he?éy</i> ‘where’	<i>he?éy t^hin</i> ‘somewhere’
<i>hi?dí</i> ‘whereabouts’	<i>hi?di t^hin</i> ‘somewhere’
<i>he?én</i> ‘how’	<i>he?én t^hin</i> ‘somehow, in some way’

The standard indefinite series are used in most of the non-negative functions identified in Haspelmath (1997). For example, *ciba· t^hin* ‘someone’ can be used to express a specific, unknown indefinite referent (54), and it can be used in conditionals (55).

- (54) [...] to *cibá· t^hin* *da·qa?*
 to *ciba· =t^hin* *da·qac’-?*
 1SG.ACC who =NEG like-DVS
 ‘[That is when I know that] someone wants me.’ (KT 50:18.5)

- (55) *cibá· t^hin* *mito* *?ama· mito* *men hqacín?p^hila* [...]
 ciba· =t^hin *mito* *?ama· mito* *men hqac-id-p^hila*
 who =NEG 2SG.ACC thing 2SG.ACC thus ask-DUR-DS.IRR
 ‘If anyone ever asks anything of you, [you should not say, ‘No’]’

¹¹Note that the English expression *and whatnot* means ‘and similar items, etc.’ and is not an indefinite pronoun.

Compare these uses of the positive indefinite pronouns with the uses of bare interrogatives as negative indefinite pronouns in negated clauses, described in §3.2 above. Using the concept ‘who’ as illustration, the two uses of interrogatives outside content questions can be summarised as follows:

WHO+NEG	VERB	‘Someone VERB-ed.’
WHO	VERB+NEG	‘Nobody VERB-ed.’

The use of negation to form non-negative indefinites is so surprising that it is worth asking whether the element $t^h in$ in these expressions is not simply a case of accidental homophony with the negative clitic $=t^h in$, but I am not aware of any other element of the shape $t^h in$, either in Kashaya or in other closely related Pomoan languages, that could have provided the diachronic source for the indefinite marker.

Note also that $=t^h in$ clearly behaves as a clitic even in indefinite expressions, because it detaches from the interrogative word when other elements, such as postpositions, are added to the indefinite expression. In such complex indefinite expressions, $=t^h in$ appears at the right edge of the complex interrogative expression, following the added material. In (56), the interrogative $he?é$ ‘where’ is followed by the postposition tow ‘from’, which intervenes before $=t^h in$, resulting in a complex indefinite $he?é \cdot tow \ ?t^h in$ ‘from somewhere’. The fact that $=t^h in$ behaves like a clitic even in indefinite expressions could be considered to be evidence that it is the ‘same’ item as the negative clitic.¹²

- (56) mulidom $p^hi?t'an$ $he?é \cdot tow \ ?t^h in$ $cibá \cdot t^h in$
 mulidom $p^hi?t'an$ $he?ey =tow \ ?=t^h in$ $ciba \cdot =t^h in$
 it.is.said suddenly where =from ASRT=NEG who =NEG
 $bu?s'uná \cdot yadu$
 $bu?s'unay \cdot ad \cdot u$
 make.kissing.noise-DUR-DVS
 ‘Suddenly from somewhere someone was making a kissing noise.’ (KT 24:3.2)

¹²Note that the negative clitic attaches to the Assertive $?$ (which functions as an auxiliary verb) in complex indefinite expressions. The Assertive occasionally hosts the negative clitic in standard clausal negation too, as in (13) and (48) above. I am not aware of the function of the Assertive in these uses. A reviewer suggests that $=?t^h in$ might simply be an allomorph of $=t^h in$ in certain contexts, perhaps historically related to the Assertive.

Comparison with indefinite pronouns in the closest relatives of Kashaya does not shed any light on the diachronic origin of the positive indefinite pronouns.¹³ Haspelmath (1997) mentions one source of positive indefinite pronouns that involves negation, the ‘dunno’ type, i.e. expressions that originally meant ‘I don’t know who’ (e.g. Old Norse *nekkver* ‘somebody’ < **ne wait ik hwarir* ‘I don’t know who’; 1997: 131). Haspelmath notes that ‘dunno’-type indefinites seem restricted to European languages, and there is nothing in Kashaya indefinites such as *ciba-t^hin* ‘someone’ suggesting that these have a clausal origin. It is worth noting, however, that utterances combining ‘don’t know’ and an interrogative word, as in (57), are not uncommon in the Kashaya corpus, so it is possible that this type of structure is the diachronic source of the indefinite pronouns. This would have involved placement of the negative clitic after the interrogative word (as in constituent negation, §4.1) and a meaning change, i.e. ‘don’t know where X went’ > ‘X went somewhere’. Unfortunately there is no data to support this scenario, so the explanation for the use of negation in the indefinite pronouns remains an enigma.

- (57) *muʔnati heʔé· wa-du* *dú-ciʔ* *t^hin* [...]
muʔnati heʔey wa-d-u *ʔdu·cic’-ʔ* =*t^hin*
 but where one.go.along-DVS know-DVS =NEG
 ‘But they didn’t know where she went; [she was lost.]’ (KT 51:6.3)

4.6.2 Comparative remarks on negation in Pomoan languages

The existence of multiple negation strategies in Kashaya (suffix *-t^h*, clitic =*t^hin*, verb *c^how*) appears to be shared with the other Pomoan languages. The closest relative, Southern Pomo, shows a very similar pattern with competition between a negative suffix *-t^h* (used with e.g. Conditional verb forms) and a negative clitic =*t^hot^h* or =*t^hot^h*’ (used with the Future suffix, and in non-verbal predication; Walker 2020: 246–248), plus a negative existential verb *ʔač^h:ów*, corresponding to Kashaya *c^how* ‘not exist’ (Walker 2020: 308).

Central Pomo, spoken north of Kashaya, shows a slightly more complex situation (Mithun 1998). The markers of negation are clearly cognate with the neg-

¹³Southern Pomo uses interrogative words such as *čaʔa* ‘who’ followed by the clitic *ʔnati* ‘but, even’ as negative indefinite pronouns, combined with a negated verb (data from Halpern’s Southern Pomo Texts; cf. also Walker 2020: 259); I have found no data on positive indefinite pronouns in this language. Central Pomo uses bare interrogative pronouns (e.g. *bá*: ‘who’; cf. Kashaya *ciba*: ‘who’) as indefinite pronouns in both positive and negative contexts (e.g. Mithun 2008: 238, ex. 58, Mithun 1998: 83, ex. 15)

ative morphemes in Kashaya and Southern Pomo, but their functions are different. According to Mithun's description, Central Pomo negation is intertwined with aspect, and distinguishes the perfective negator $\check{c}^h\acute{o}w$ (cognate with Kashaya $c^h\acute{o}w$ 'not exist') from the imperfective negator t^hin (cognate with Kashaya $=t^hin$). Mithun observes that $\check{c}^h\acute{o}w$ also functions as a negative existential, and that t^hin is used in nominal and adjectival predication, just like the Kashaya cognates.

Negation in Eastern Pomo employs the suffixal element $-k^h\acute{u}y$ (McLendon 1975: 105), which is cognate with Kashaya $c^h\acute{o}w$, Southern Pomo $?ac^h\acute{o}w$, Central Pomo $\check{c}^h\acute{o}w$ (reflecting Proto-Pomo $*?ak^h\acute{o}w$; McLendon 1973: 83). The geographic distribution of the descendants of Proto-Pomo $*?ak^h\acute{o}w$, which is restricted to existential negation in the southernmost languages (Kashaya and Southern Pomo), extends to negating verbs in some contexts in Central Pomo, and functions as the standard negator in Eastern Pomo, aligns neatly with different diachronic stages of the so-called Negative Existential Cycle, which describes the development of standard negators from negative existentials (Croft 1991, Veselinova 2014).

The other Pomoan languages for which data are available appear to feature double-marked negation, combining negative verb forms with pre-verbal negative particles (Moshinsky 1974, O'Connor 1987). Untangling the history of the diverse negation strategies of the Pomoan family would be a rewarding comparative task.

The fascinating 'what-not' indefinite pronoun series described in §4.6.1 lack equivalents in other Pomoan languages. The formation of positive indefinite pronouns from interrogatives and the negative marker appears to be a quirk of Kashaya, and a typological rarissimum to boot.

5 Conclusion

Kashaya has three main strategies for expressing negation: a verb suffix $-t^h$, a clitic $=t^hin$ and a negative existential verb $c^h\acute{o}w$. Table 7 outlines the distribution of the three strategies.

I showed that the three strategies are largely in complementary distribution, with determinants involving both morphological context (e.g. verbs with evidentials only taking the negative suffix $-t^h$; §2.1.2) and syntactic context (e.g. constituent negation and nominal/adjectival predication selecting the clitic $=t^hin$; §2.3.1, §4.1). I noted that some contexts show variation between the suffixal and clitic options (as in the negation of switch-reference clauses, §2.4.2), but overall, the patterning of the three strategies is straightforward.

Table 7: Summary of negation strategies

Negation strategy	Functions
Suffix $-t^h$	Negating verbs marked with evidential suffixes, Conditional $-iʔba$, etc. (§2.1.2)
Clitic $=t^hin$	Negating verbs marked with Future $-ʔk^he$, Default Verbal Suffix, etc. (§2.1.2) Negation in nominal & adjectival predication (§2.3.1) Constituent negation (§4.1) Formation of positive indefinite pronouns (§4.6.1)
Verb c^how ‘not exist’	Existential & locative negation (§2.3.2)
Suffixes $-t^hu$ (sg), $-t^hume$ (pl)	Prohibitive (§2.2)

Acknowledgements

I was fortunate to be able to learn about Kashaya from a native speaker, the late Anita Silva, during the Field Methods class led by Pam Munro at the LSA 2009 Institute at UC Berkeley. My work with Mrs. Silva focused on negation, but was mainly based on elicitation, so I have chosen to base this chapter on textual data instead. I am indebted to Pam Munro, who encouraged me to work on negation and provided very helpful comments on my class paper, and to Gene Buckley, who kindly shared his interlinearised Kashaya Texts with me. Thanks are also due to the two anonymous reviewers and the editors of this volume, who provided helpful comments on this chapter.

Abbreviations

1	first person	IPFV	imperfective
2	second person	IRR	irrealis
3	third person	M	masculine
ACC	accusative	NEG	negative
AGT	agent	NFNL	non-final verb
ASRT	assertive (auxiliary)	NOM	nominative
CAUS	causative	NP	nominal phrase
CMND	command	OBL	oblique
CONC	concessive	PRFM	performative
COND	conditional	PFV	perfective
DISTR	distributive	PL	plural
DS	different subject	POSS	possessive
DUR	durative	PROH	prohibitive
DVS	default verbal suffix	PURP	purposive
EMPH	emphatic focus	Q	yes/no-question
ESS	essive	REFL	reflexive
EVID	evidentials	RESP	responsive
F	feminine	SEQ	sequential
FOC	focus	SG	singular
FUT	future	SIM	simultaneous
GNR	general	SR	switch-reference
HRSY	hearsay evidential	SS	same subject
IMP	imperative	V	verb
INCEP	inceptive	VIS	visual evidential
INTV	intensive	VOC	vocative

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Negation in Koasati

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Koasati has a complex negative pattern with three markers on the verb whose placement is determined by verb class. The complexity of the morphological system has hindered understanding of negation as a whole in the language. This paper thus explores the larger topic of Koasati negation in typological perspective, with special attention to tone, aspect, and the origin of the system.

Keywords: negation, Koasati, Muskogean, infixation.

1 Introduction

Koasati (ISO: **cku**, Glottocode: **koas1236**) is a Muskogean language spoken by 200 members of the Coushatta Tribe of Louisiana and by a portion of the Alabama-Coushatta Tribe of Texas. It is closely related to Alabama, and more distantly related to Choctaw, Chickasaw, Apalachee, Mikasuki, and Muskogee (Creek). The data in this paper are from elicited data collected while developing pedagogical materials with the Coushatta Heritage Department.

The vowel phonemes of Koasati are short /a i o/, long /a: i: o:/, and nasal /aⁿ iⁿ oⁿ/. The consonant phonemes are /b č f h k l ɬ m n p s t w y/. /č/ and /y/ are phonetically [tʃ] and [j] in IPA. Within a word, acute, grave, caron, and circumflex accents are used for tone (generally indicating verbal aspect). Phrase-final intonation patterns are indicated with ' (high) and ^ (falling) after a word.

Koasati generally has SOV word order (1).

- (1) a:t-osi-k ɬaɬo-ⁿ i:p
person-DIM-SBJ fish-NSBJ eat.LGR
'The child is eating the fish.'

Enclitics appear after noun phrases to indicate case or discourse status: *-k* for subject (with a focused form *-ok*), *-ⁿ* for nonsubject (focused form *-on*), and *-p* for

topic, among others. In conversation, subjects, objects, and other phrases may be placed after the verb as afterthoughts.

Verbs are highly synthetic and are marked for the person and number of their arguments. Koasati distinguishes the three series of person markers in (2–4): agent (A), patient (P), and dative (DAT).¹

- (2) Agent series (stem *hiča-* ‘see’):
- | | |
|----------------------------------|------------------------------|
| <i>hiča-l-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘I will see it’ ² |
| <i>is-hiča-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘you will see it’ |
| <i>hiča-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘he/she will see it’ |
| <i>il-hiča-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘we will see it’ |
| <i>has-hiča-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘you all will see it’ |
- (3) Patient series (stem *banna-* ‘want’):
- | | |
|------------------------------------|-------------------------------|
| <i>ča-banna-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘I will want it’ ³ |
| <i>či-banna-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘you will want it’ |
| <i>banna-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘he/she will want it’ |
| <i>ko-banna-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘we will want it’ |
| <i>hači-banna-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘you all will want it’ |
- (4) Dative series (stem *im-aka:no-* ‘be hungry’):
- | | |
|--------------------------------------|---------------------------------|
| <i>am-aka:no-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘I will be hungry’ ⁴ |
| <i>čim-aka:no-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘you will be hungry’ |
| <i>im-aka:no-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘he/she will be hungry’ |
| <i>kom-aka:no-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘we will be hungry’ |
| <i>hačim-aka:no-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘you all will be hungry’ |

Person markers are prefixed in the patient and dative series. In the agent series, the first person singular *-li* (or *-l*) is always a suffix. The other agent person markers may be prefixed, infix, or suffixed depending on verb class.⁵

¹For simplicity, verbs are cited here in future forms ending in *-lahoⁿ*.

²In (2), *hiča-l-lahoⁿ* is glossed see-1SG.A-FUT.SF, and *is-hiča-lahoⁿ* is glossed 2SG.A-see-FUT.SF.

³In (3), *ča-banna-lahoⁿ* is glossed 1SG.P-want-FUT.SF.

⁴In (4) *am-aka:no-lahoⁿ* is glossed 1SG.DAT-be.hungry-FUT.SF.

⁵Verb classes are established based on the placement and form of the agent person markers (if the verb is agentive) or, as we will see, on the placement and form of negative *ik-*. Verb class also affects the form of verbal nouns (Kimball 1991: 273ff). Haas (1946) described six verb classes in Koasati (I, IIA, IIB, IIC, IIIA, IIIB). Kimball (1991, 1994) recognized ten classes (1A, 1B, etc.), though some of his classes have only a few members. For reasons of space, I focus here on four classes. See also Montler & Hardy (1991) for a description of negation in Alabama.

The verb *hiča-* ‘see’ in (2), for example, belongs to a small class of verbs (“SEE verbs” or Kimball’s class 1A) that prefix agent person markers other than the first person singular.

Verbs belonging to the SING class (class 2C) differ in infixing these markers. This is seen with the stem *talwa-* ‘sing’ in (5).

- | | | |
|-----|---|---------------------|
| (5) | <i>talwa-l-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘I will sing’ |
| | <i>ta<či>lwa-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘you will sing’ |
| | <i>talwa-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘he/she will sing’ |
| | <i>talwa-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘we will sing’ |
| | <i>ta<hači>lwa-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘you all will sing’ |

Most other verbs are suffixing, but belong to several classes based on the specific form of the markers. The stem *bitli-* ‘dance’ in (6) (class 2Aii) is typical of the large number of verb roots ending in *-li*.⁶

- | | | |
|-----|----------------------------------|----------------------|
| (6) | <i>bitli-l-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘I will dance’ |
| | <i>bit-či-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘you will dance’ |
| | <i>bitli-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘he/she will dance’ |
| | <i>bit-hil-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘we will dance’ |
| | <i>bit-hači-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘you all will dance’ |

The stem *na:ti:ka-* ‘speak’ in (7) is another suffixing verb, this time typical of verbs ending in *-ka* (class 3A).

- | | | |
|-----|--------------------------------------|----------------------|
| (7) | <i>na:ti:ka-l-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘I will speak’ |
| | <i>na:ti:-hiska-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘you will speak’ |
| | <i>na:ti:ka-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘he/she will speak’ |
| | <i>na:ti:-hilka-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘we will speak’ |
| | <i>na:ti:-haska-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘you all will speak’ |

Koasati has a system of GRADES or internal changes typically applying to the penultimate syllable of a verb stem and affecting verbal aspect. As (8) shows, a verb stem like *hača:li-* ‘stand’ can thus appear in the lengthened grade (L-grade, LGR) to indicate an event in progress, or in the geminating-rising tone grade (GR-grade, GGR) to indicate a state resulting from an event.

⁶The same pattern is used for a number of verbs like *isi-* ‘take’ that don’t end in *-li* (Kimball’s class 2Ai).

- (8) a. hačà:li-l
stand.SG.LGR-1SG.A
'I am standing up.' (event; L-grade)
b. haččà:li-l
stand.SG.GGR-1SG.A
'I am standing.' (resulting state; GR-grade)

Other grades include the rising tone grade (R-grade), the aspirating grade (H-grade), and the nasalizing grade (N-grade).

In questions and emphatic environments, the final vowels of verbs may be nasalized (9a). Final oral vowels are deleted in statements and commands (9b).

- (9) a. hačà:li-ⁿ
stand.SG.LGR-SF
'Is he/she standing up?'
b. hačà:l
stand.SG.LGR
'He/she is standing up.'

Koasati has a measured tense system with several degrees of remoteness in past time. Table 1 shows four past tenses with forms used in statements (with loss of final vowel), questions, and emphatic statements.⁷

Table 1: Past tense suffixes

	Statement	Question	Emphasis
Past 1 (today/last night)			
Perfective	-t	no mark	-ti ^{n^}
Imperfective	-.s	-.sa ^{n'}	
Past 2 (yesterday/a year ago)	-t	-to ^{n'}	
Past 3 (long ago)	-k	-ki ^{n'}	-ki ^{n^}
Past 4 (very long ago)	-to ⁿ	-to:li ^{n'}	

⁷Past 1 is glossed in examples as REC.PST and past 2 is glossed as MED.PST.

2 Clausal negation

Many aspects of Koasati negation have been described in Kimball (1991).⁸ This description reflects further research on Koasati tone and grades and describes negation in a wider typological context (Dahl 1979, Miestamo 2005, 2025).

Negation in Koasati is restricted to verbs. It is unusual in being signaled by three separate markers on the verb: an affix *ik-*, a suffix *-o*, and use of rising tone. Of these, the affix *ik-* is the most reliable and salient mark of negation.⁹

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation (negation of indicative clauses) is a morphological operation in Koasati applying to verbs. In (10), the verb stem is *ipa-* ‘eat’.¹⁰

- (10) a. a:t-osi-k ɬaɬo-ⁿ ɪ:p
 person-DIM-SBJ fish-NSBJ eat.LGR
 ‘The child is eating the fish.’
 b. a:t-osi-k ɬaɬo-ⁿ ɪk-p-o-ⁿ
 person-DIM-SBJ fish-NSBJ NEG-eat.RGR-NEG-SF
 ‘The child is not eating the fish.’

Three morphological operations apply to make a verb negative:

1. a form of the negative affix *ik-* is prefixed, infix, or suffixed (depending on verb class);
2. a negative suffix *-o* is added;
3. the verb stem is put in the rising tone grade. Rising tone is assigned to the syllable before *-o*. If the vowel in that syllable is short and open, it is lengthened.

Negative *ik-* and *-o* are unique to negation and can be considered a type of two-part negation. The final *-o* may delete before another vowel, but a form of *ik-* is always present. The rising tone grade is a grammatical aspect limited to

⁸Kimball (1991) is particularly thorough in investigating verb classes associated with negation. Kimball (1994) is a dictionary indicating class membership.

⁹I say this because *-o* sometimes deletes and because rising tone can be difficult to hear.

¹⁰When rising tone falls on a syllable closed by an obstruent (as in *ik-p-o-ⁿ* in (10b)), the rise is often carried over to the following syllable: *ik-p-ó-ⁿ*.

negatives, some nominalizations, and as part of the geminating-rising tone grade (which indicates a resulting state). These three uses suggest the rising tone grade was once a type of imperfective, but the three uses have little to do with each other now, and the rising tone grade helps distinguish a negative verb.

Whether negative *ik-* is prefixed, infix, or suffixed depends on verb class. The placement of *ik-* is thus parallel to the placement of the agent person markers. In fact, the agent person markers and *ik-* are fused as a separate series of negative agent person markers. Verbs like *hiča-* ‘see’ that prefix the positive agent person markers also prefix the negative agent person markers (11).¹¹

(11)	<i>hiča-l-lahoⁿ</i>	‘I will see it’
	<i>is-hiča-lahoⁿ</i>	‘you will see it’
	<i>hiča-lahoⁿ</i>	‘he/she will see it’
	<i>il-hiča-lahoⁿ</i>	‘we will see it’
	<i>has-hiča-lahoⁿ</i>	‘you all will see it’
	<i>ak-hĩ:č-o-lahoⁿ</i>	‘I won’t see it’
	<i>čik-hĩ:č-o-lahoⁿ</i>	‘you won’t see it’
	<i>ik-hĩ:č-o-lahoⁿ</i>	‘he/she won’t see it’
	<i>kil-hĩ:č-o-lahoⁿ</i>	‘we won’t see it’
	<i>hačik-hĩ:č-o-lahoⁿ</i>	‘you all won’t see it’

Verbs like *talwa-* ‘sing’ that infix the agent person markers also infix the negative agent person markers (12).

(12)	<i>talwa-l-lahoⁿ</i>	‘I will sing’
	<i>ta<či>lwa-lahoⁿ</i>	‘you will sing’
	<i>talwa-lahoⁿ</i>	‘he/she will sing’
	<i>talwa-lahoⁿ</i>	‘we will sing’
	<i>ta<hači>lwa-lahoⁿ</i>	‘you all will sing’
	<i>ta<kǎ>lw-o-lahoⁿ</i>	‘I won’t sing’
	<i>ta<čikǎ>lw-o-lahoⁿ</i>	‘you won’t sing’
	<i>ta<kǎ>lw-o-lahoⁿ</i>	‘he/she won’t sing’
	<i>ta<likǎ>lw-o-lahoⁿ</i>	‘we won’t sing’
	<i>ta<hačikǎ>lw-o-lahoⁿ</i>	‘you all won’t sing’

Verbs like *bitli-* ‘dance’ in (13) and *na:ti:ka-* ‘speak’ in (14) that suffix the agent person markers also suffix the negative agent person markers.

¹¹As Miestamo (2005: 129) has noted, this is an asymmetric system, because agentive person marking is expressed differently in positive and negative clauses.

- (13) *bitli-l-lahoⁿ* 'I will dance'
bit-či-lahoⁿ 'you will dance'
bitli-lahoⁿ 'he/she will dance'
bit-hil-lahoⁿ 'we will dance'
bit-hači-lahoⁿ 'you all will dance'
- bit-tǎkko-lahoⁿ* 'I won't dance'
bit-čikko-lahoⁿ 'you won't dance'
bit-ko-lahoⁿ 'he/she won't dance'
bit-kilko-lahoⁿ 'we won't dance'
bit-hačikko-lahoⁿ 'you all won't dance'
- (14) *na:ti:ka-l-lahoⁿ* 'I will speak'
na:ti:-hiska-lahoⁿ 'you will speak'
na:ti:ka-lahoⁿ 'he/she will speak'
na:ti:-hilka-lahoⁿ 'we will speak'
na:ti:-haska-lahoⁿ 'you all will speak'
- na:ti:-hǎkko-lahoⁿ* 'I won't speak'
na:ti:-čikko-lahoⁿ 'you won't speak'
na:ti:-hikko-lahoⁿ 'he/she won't speak'
na:ti:-kilko-lahoⁿ 'we won't speak'
na:ti:-hačikko-lahoⁿ 'you all won't speak'

Many verbs use the agent series for their subjects, but some use the patient or dative series instead. For these, the person markers are not fused with negative *ik-*. Instead, negation has the same form as the third person negative. The verb *banna-* 'want', for example, uses the patient series for its subject, but as (15) shows, negation uses the same pattern as *bitli-* 'dance' in the third person.

- (15) *ča-banna-lahoⁿ* 'I will want it'
či-banna-lahoⁿ 'you will want it'
banna-lahoⁿ 'he/she will want it'
ko-banna-lahoⁿ 'we will want it'
hači-banna-lahoⁿ 'you all will want it'
- ča-bǎn-ko-lahoⁿ* 'I won't want it'
či-bǎn-ko-lahoⁿ 'you won't want it'
bǎn-ko-lahoⁿ 'he/she won't want it'
ko-bǎn-ko-lahoⁿ 'we won't want it'
hači-bǎn-ko-lahoⁿ 'you all won't want it'

The verb *im-aka:no* ‘hungry’ uses the dative series for its subject. Again, as (16) shows, negation for this verb is as for *bitli* ‘dance’.

- | | | |
|------|---------------------------------------|-----------------------------------|
| (16) | <i>am-aka:no-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘I will be hungry’ |
| | <i>čim-aka:no-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘you will be hungry’ |
| | <i>im-aka:no-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘he/she will be hungry’ |
| | <i>kom-aka:no-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘we will be hungry’ |
| | <i>hačim-aka:no-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘you all will be hungry’ |
| | <i>am-akăn-ko-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘I won’t be hungry’ ¹² |
| | <i>čim-akăn-ko-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘you won’t be hungry’ |
| | <i>im-akăn-ko-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘he/she won’t be hungry’ |
| | <i>kom-akăn-ko-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘we won’t be hungry’ |
| | <i>hačim-akăn-ko-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘you all won’t be hungry’ |

A third feature of negative clauses is the use of the rising tone grade. As the examples in (11–16) show, rising tone is assigned to the syllable preceding -o, either on the verb root (17) or on an affix (18).

- | | | |
|------|--------------------------------------|------------------------|
| (17) | <i>banna-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘he/she will want it’ |
| | <i>băn-ko-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘he/she won’t want it’ |
| (18) | <i>na:ti:-hilka-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘we will speak’ |
| | <i>na:ti:-kılko-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘we won’t speak’ |

Rising tone leads to lengthening of short vowels in open syllables (19).

- | | | |
|------|-----------------------------------|-----------------------|
| (19) | <i>hiča-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘he/she will see it’ |
| | <i>ik-hĩ:č-o-lahoⁿ</i> | ‘he/she won’t see it’ |

The rising tone grade is a restricted form of imperfective (limited to negatives, some nominalizations, and as a component of the geminating-rising tone grade). In the present tense, a positive verb may be in the lengthened grade for an event or in the geminating-rising tone grade for a resulting state. In the negative, however, only the rising tone grade is possible, so that distinction is lost (Table 2).

The past 1 time frame (for earlier today up to last night) differs. If an event was perfective (successfully completed once), a suffix -*ti* is used with the lengthened

¹²Kimball (1991: 73) records infixation with this verb: *am-aka<kĩ:>n-oⁿ* ‘I am not hungry’. Speakers sometimes use different conjugation patterns with the same verb and sometimes also switch patterns between persons. Note that the root has a short vowel in negative forms like *am-akăn-ko-lahoⁿ* ‘I won’t be hungry’. Koasati does not normally permit long vowels in syllables closed by sonorants.

Table 2: Present (stem *čoko:li-* ‘get seated’)

Event (L-grade)	<i>čokò:li-l</i>	‘I’m getting seated’
Resulting state (GR-grade)	<i>čokkò:li-l</i>	‘I’m sitting’
Negative (R-grade)	<i>čoko:-tǎkko-ⁿ</i>	‘I’m not sitting’

grade. If an event was ongoing, a resulting state, or a negative, then a suffix *-:sa* is used with different grades (Table 3).¹³

Table 3: Past 1 (stem *čoko:li-* ‘get seated’)

Perfective (L-grade + <i>-ti</i>)	<i>čokò:li-li-t</i>	‘I sat down’
Event (L-grade + <i>-:sa</i>)	<i>čokò:li-li-:s</i>	‘I was getting seated’
Resulting state (GR-grade + <i>-:sa</i>)	<i>čokkò:li-li-:s</i>	‘I was seated’
Negative (R-grade + <i>-:sa</i>)	<i>čoko:-tǎkko-:s</i>	‘I didn’t sit’

In examining the present and past 1 forms in Table 2 and Table 3, it is clear that negative verbs have more limited aspectual distinctions. This may be due to the fact that negative actions are inherently incomplete and thus inherently imperfective. Negative verbs also occur in a specific grade, however, which means that other grade distinctions are not possible.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

The same form of negation is used in statements and in questions (though questions have higher intonation at the end) (20).

- (20) a. *ik-hĩ:č-o-ⁿ*
 NEG-see.RGR-NEG-SF
 ‘He/she doesn’t see it.’
 b. *ik-hĩ:č-o-ⁿ*
 NEG-see.RGR-NEG-SF
 ‘Doesn’t he/she see it?’

Koasati has a dedicated construction for negative commands (Kimball 1991: 263). In this pattern, a prohibitive suffix *-nna* is added to the agentive second person singular or second person plural. The forms in (21–23) are of the stem *talwa-* ‘sing’.

¹³For reasons of space, I describe only the present and past 1 time frames here.

- (21) talw[^]!
sing
'Sing!'
- (22) ta<či>lwa-**nna**-^{n^}!
sing<2SG.A>-PROH-SF
'Don't you sing!'
- (23) ta<hači>lwa-**nna**-^{n^}!
sing<2PL.A>-PROH-SF
'Don't you all sing!'

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Stative predications in Koasati can be divided into copular predications, resultative stative predications, and existential predications.

Copular predications use the verb *ommi*- 'be'. The regular negative form is *önko*-, but it is often shortened to *ko*-. Copular predications are used for equative sentences (24):

- (24) a. y-ok ič-ok om
 this-FOC.SBJ deer-FOC.SBJ be
 'This is a deer.'
- b. y-ap ič-ok ko-ⁿ
 this-TOP deer-FOC.SBJ be.NEG-SF
 'This is not a deer.'

Attributes like *homma* 'red' are verbs in Koasati. These words may be used to modify nouns: *čokbani hõmma* 'red ant'. When used as stative predicates, however, they are generally turned into participles (deverbal nouns) by adding *-hči*. The verb *ommi*- 'be' is then used as with equative sentences (25):

- (25) a. pokko-k hommá-hč-ok om
 ball-SBJ red-PTCP-FOC.SBJ be
 'The ball is red.'
- b. pokko-k hommá-hč-ok ko-ⁿ
 ball-SBJ red-PTCP-FOC.SBJ be.NEG-SF
 'The ball is not red.'

Some verbs use the lengthened grade for an event and the geminating-rising tone grade for a resulting state. The negative is the same for both forms, so this aspectual distinction is lost (26).

- (26) a. čokò:lí-l
sit.SG.LGR-1SG.A
'I am getting seated.' (event)
- b. čokkò:li-l
sit.SG.GGR-1SG.A
'I am seated.' (resulting state)
- c. čoko:-tǎkko-ⁿ
sit.SG-1SG.A.NEG.RGR-SF
'I am not seated/getting seated.'

Existential predications express quantity ('we are three'), existence, and 'have' sentences. To express existence, the verb *nǎ:ho-* 'exist' is used (27), with an unexpected negative form *ǐkso-*. Lexicalized negative existentials of this type are common in other languages, as Veselinova (2013) has discussed.

- (27) Q: hapi-k nǎ:ho-ⁿ
salt-SBJ exist.GGR-SF
'Is there salt?'
- A: hapi-k ǐkso-ⁿ
salt-SBJ NEGEX.RGR-SF
'There is no salt.'

The same verbs are used to express 'have' and 'not have' (28). In this use, a dative prefix *im-* (or *in-*) is added to the verb.

- (28) a. a:t-osi-k ɬaɬo-k in-nǎ:ho-:s
person-DIM-SBJ fish-SBJ DAT-exist.GGR-REC.PST.IPFV
'The child had a fish.' (lit. 'Child, fish to-her-existed.')
- b. a:t-osi-k ɬaɬo-k im-ǐkso-:s
person-DIM-SBJ fish-SBJ DAT-NEG.exist.RGR-REC.PST.IPFV
'The child didn't have a fish.'

Location is generally expressed with posture verbs (29). These posture verbs use standard negation.

- (29) pokko-k mobi:la obă:li-ⁿ čokkǒ:l
ball-SBJ car behind-NSBJ sit.SG.GGR
'The ball is (sitting) behind the car.'

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Any type of clause may be negated in Koasati, and negation is done the same way in main clauses and non-main clauses. Negation is limited to verbs, however. (30–31) show negation on verbs in adverbial clauses.

- (30) falaⁿ-hīkko-ska-n, ho<kǐ>kf-o-:s
wake-NEG-because-DS wake.NEG.RGR-NEG-REC.PST.IPFV
'Because he didn't wake up, he didn't get dressed.'
- (31) o<kǐ:>b-o-:p
rain<NEG>.RGR-NEG-TOP
'If it doesn't rain ...'

As Kimball (1991: 239) notes, the suffix *-ha:lo-* 'while' usually appears with negatives (32).

- (32) hopon-tăkk-o-ha:l-ok
cook-1SG.A.NEG-NEG-while-FOC.SS
'Before I cook ...' (lit. 'While I do not cook ...')

Koasati makes little use of non-finite clauses. The verb *banna-* 'want, try' is one verb that can appear with both finite and non-finite complements for different meanings (33–34).

- (33) aḥa-l-a:hi:-k ča-bànnă::s
go.SG-1SG.A-going.to-SS 1SG.P-want.LGR-REC.PST.IPFV
'I wanted to go.' (lit. 'I wanted that I am going to go.')
- (34) aḥa-h ča-bànnă::s
go.SG-INF 1SG.P-want.LGR-REC.PST.IPFV
'I tried to go.'

The complement clause in (33) is marked for first person singular and can be considered finite. The complement clause in (34) has no marking of the subject and no obvious tense or aspect. I therefore consider the complement clause in (34) to be non-finite.

As (35) shows, speakers accept negative versions of non-finite clauses.

- (35) a. Skye-ka-k tabak-čampoli-ⁿ ipa-h bànná-t
 Skye-LN-SBJ bread-sweet-NSBJ eat-INF try.LGR-REC.PST
 ‘Skye tried to eat the cake.’
- b. Skye-ka-k tabak-čampoli-ⁿ ĩk-p-o-h bànná-t
 Skye-LN-SBJ bread-sweet-NSBJ NEG-eat.RGR-NEG-INF try.LGR-REC.PST
 ‘Skye tried not to eat the cake.’

In (35b), *ĩk-po-h* ‘not to eat’ has no mark for the person of the subject.

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

As described in §2.3, the verb *ĩkso-* ‘not exist, not have’ is a lexical negative (serving as the negative of *nă:ho-* ‘exist, have’). The negative copula *õn-ko-* ‘not be (a noun), not be (a property)’ is regular, but is generally shortened to *ko-*. A few words describing properties have had their negative forms lexicalized as antonyms (§3.3).

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Replies to yes/no questions (36) can be made with *ay* ‘yes’ or *ĩnkoⁿ* ‘no’ (37).

- (36) ifa-k wo:wòhká-ⁿ
 dog-SBJ bark.LGR-SF
 ‘Is the dog barking?’
- (37) a. ay, wo:wòhk
 yes bark.LGR
 ‘Yes, it’s barking.’
- b. ĩnkoⁿ, wo:woh-ĩkko-ⁿ
 be.not.so bark-NEG.RGR-SF
 ‘No, it’s not barking.’

A negative yes/no question can be asked with *-tĩkko-ⁿ* ‘it isn’t the case?’ (38). In that context, *ay* ‘yes’ can be used to mean ‘that’s right’ (39a), although *ĩnkoⁿ* ‘no’ can also be used (39b).

- (38) ifa-k wo:wohka-tikko-ⁿ
 dog-s bark-NEG.RGR-SF
 ‘Isn’t the dog barking?’
- (39) a. ay, ōnko-ⁿ
 yes do.RGR-NEG-SF
 ‘Yeah, he’s not.’
 b. ĭnkoⁿ, wo:woh-ĭkko-ⁿ
 be.not.so bark-NEG.RGR-SF
 ‘No, it’s not barking.’

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Kimball (1991: 423ff) discusses indefinite pronouns in Koasati. As he notes, the same word is often used for *some-* or *any-* words in English (‘something’, ‘(not) anything’, etc.), as well as interrogatives (‘what’, etc.) (40–42).

- (40) na:s-on hì:čá-l
 what/thing-FOC.NSBJ see.LGR-1SG.A
 ‘I see something.’
- (41) na:s-on ak-hĩ:č-o-ⁿ
 what/thing-FOC.NSBJ 1SG.A.NEG-see.RGR-NEG-SF
 ‘I don’t see anything.’
- (42) na:s-on is-hì:čá-ⁿ
 what/thing-FOC.NSBJ 2SG.A-see.LGR-SF
 ‘What do you see?’

The following indefinite pronouns are like *na:si* in having ‘some-’, ‘any-’, and ‘wh-’ uses: *nakso-fa* ‘somewhere, (not) anywhere, where’; *nakso-fo:ka* ‘sometime, (not) anytime, when’. The human indefinite pronoun *a:ti* can be used for ‘someone’ and for ‘(not) anyone’, but never for ‘who’. To express ‘who’, the word *nakso* ‘which one’ is used (and so is not specifically for humans).¹⁴

Modifiers can be added to these pronouns to express other senses (43).

- (43) free-choice: *nak(so)-santik* ‘whichever’
 universal: *a:t-ohya* ‘everyone’, *nakso-f-ohya* ‘everywhere’
 else: *a:t-mi:ta* ‘someone else’

¹⁴My description of this section is informed by the work of Haspelmath (1997).

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Only verbs may be negated in Koasati. To express ‘without’, the verb *ikso* ‘not exist’ is used (44).

- (44) *ilhič-ikso* ‘invisible’ (lit. “appearance-without”)
a:ti im-ililla ikso ‘God’ (lit. “person their-death-without”)

Some instances of clausal negation in Koasati have been lexicalized as antonyms (45).

- (45) *kano* ‘good’ *kăn-k-o-ⁿ* ‘bad, not good’
čoba ‘big’ *čo<kĩ:>b-o-ⁿ* ‘small, not big’
čayha ‘tall’ *ča<kĩ:>h-o-ⁿ* ‘short, not tall’

One reason for distinguishing these negatives from clausal negatives is that they may themselves be negated (46).¹⁵

- (46) *kăn-k-o-tikk-o-ⁿ* ‘it’s not that he/she/it is bad’
ča<kĩ:>h-o-tikk-o-ⁿ ‘it’s not that he/she/it is short’
čo<kĩ:>b-o-tikk-o-ⁿ ‘it’s not that he/she/it is small’

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Verbs in Koasati are highly synthetic, with nine prefix slots, fifteen suffix slots, and different grades and internal changes to stems (Kimball 1991). In some cases, negation can be marked in different places within the verb to indicate differences in scope. Kimball (1991: 196–197), for example, notes that the sentence in (47) has the two corresponding negatives in (48).¹⁶

- (47) *ča-tamm-ă:pi-t*
 1SG.P-fall-almost-REC.PST.PFV
 ‘I almost fell.’

¹⁵One speaker describes these double negatives as “kind of awkward, but okay in an argument”. The same speaker rejects a double negative in an ordinary (non-lexicalized) negative: **ho<kĩ>kf-o-tikk-o-ⁿ* ‘it’s not that he isn’t getting dressed’.

¹⁶I have changed the transcription and glossing to match the rest of the paper.

- (48) a. ča-tǎn-*k-a:pi-t*
 1SG.P-fall.RGR-NEG-almost-REC.PST.PFV
 ‘I almost didn’t fall.’
 b. ča-tamm-a:pi-*tíkko-t*
 1SG.P-fall-almost-NEG.RGR-REC.PST.PFV
 ‘I didn’t almost fall.’

Kimball (1991: 197) observes that if the verb root itself is negated, the regular negative of the root is used (*tǎn-k-o-* ‘not fall’). If a modifier of the verb is negated, then a form of *-tíkko* is used. I record similar forms, where the negative of *lokba-* ‘be hot’ is *lo-<kǐ>kb-o-ⁿ* ‘it is not hot’, but the negative of *lokb-ǎ:ⁿhos* ‘it is very hot’ is *lokb-ǎ:ⁿhos-tíkko-ⁿ* ‘it is not very hot’. In general, the negative in *-tíkko* appears to be used for newer patterns or expanded patterns (what we might call a periphrastic negative).

Negation can have scope over several different phrases within a clause. Examples (49–51) are contexts in which negation has scope over a subject, complement, and time adverb, respectively.

- (49) Linda-k ałkǐ:y-o-t, Houston-ka-fa-p,
 Linda-SBJ go.SG<NEG>.RGR-NEG-MED.PST Houston-LN-LOC-TOP
 nihtaka-p. Eli-ka-k ommit
 yesterday-TOP Eli-LN-SBJ do.LGR-MED.PST
 ‘Linda didn’t go to Houston yesterday. Eli did.’
- (50) Linda-k ałkǐ:y-o-t, Houston-ka-fa-p,
 Linda-SBJ go.SG<NEG>.RGR-NEG-MED.PST Houston-LN-LOC-TOP
 nihtaka-p. Lake Charles-ka-f-on ałi:yá-t.
 yesterday-TOP Lake Charles-LN-LOC-FOC.NSBJ go.SG.LGR-MED.PST
 ‘Linda didn’t go to Houston yesterday. She went to Lake Charles.’
- (51) Linda-k ałkǐ:y-o-t, Houston-ka-fa-p,
 Linda-SBJ go.SG<NEG>.RGR-NEG-MED.PST Houston-LN-LOC-TOP
 nihtaka-p. Tahollo-fo:k-on ałi:yá-t.
 yesterday-TOP Sunday-when-FOC.DS go.SG.LGR-MED.PST
 ‘Linda didn’t go to Houston yesterday. She went on Sunday.’

The scope of negation seems to be limited to the clause containing the negation, however. There is no evidence of negative transport, for example (§4.6.1).

Similarly, in several types of complex clauses, negation is again limited to the negative clause.

Instead of using coordination to join clauses, Koasati makes extensive use of clause chaining.¹⁷ The same-subject marker *-k* (focused form *-ok*) or different-subject marker *-n* (or *-n*, focused form *-on*) are used at the ends of dependent non-final chained clauses. The final verb form is an independent form and is marked for tense and mood (52).

(52) Chained clauses:

[S₁ [S₂ ...VERB-*k/n*] [S₃ ...VERB-*k/n*] VERB-TENSE-MOOD]

The same switch-reference markers appear at the ends of complement clauses (53) and adverbial clauses (54).

(53) Complement clauses:

[S₁ [NP] [VP [S₂ ...VERB-*k/n*] VERB-TENSE-MOOD]

(54) Adverbial clauses:

[S₁ [S₂ ...VERB-*k/n*] ... VERB-TENSE-MOOD]

In each of these structures, negation is restricted to the clause containing the negative element. We see this in chained clauses in (55).

- (55) a. Linda-*k* čokòhl-ók ì:pá-t
 Linda-SBJ sit.SG.HGR-FOC.SS eat.LGR-REC.PST.PFV
 ‘Linda sat down and ate.’
 b. Linda-*k* čokòhl-ók ìk-p-o-:s
 Linda-SBJ sit.SG.HGR-FOC.SS NEG-eat.RGR-NEG-REC.PST.IPFV
 ‘Linda sat down and didn’t eat.’ (not: ‘Linda didn’t sit down and eat.’)

The same is true for chained clauses in imperatives (56):

- (56) a. čokòhl-ók ohomp^
 sit.SG.HGR-FOC.SS eat.IMP
 ‘Sit down and eat!’
 b. čokòhl-ók ohompa-n^
 sit.SG.HGR-FOC.SS eat-PROH
 ‘Sit down and don’t eat!’ (not: ‘Don’t sit down and eat!’)

¹⁷See Martin (2024) for a discussion of clause chaining and case in Muskogean languages.

Interestingly, Koasati has another clause type that is used in expressing manner adverbs. These coverbs or coverb phrases are reduced clauses ending in a suffix *-t* that modify a verb (57).¹⁸

- (57) *-t* phrases:
[S₁ [NP] [VP [S₂ ...VERB-*t*] VERB-TENSE-MOOD]

These *-t* phrases are within the scope of a negative verb. We can see this in the indicative examples in (58).

- (58) a. *łoyka-t ì:lá-t*
return-CVB get.here.SG.LGR-REC.PST.PFV
'He/she came back.' (lit. 'He/she got here returning.')
- b. *łoyka-t ĩk-l-o-:s*
return-CVB NEG-get.here.SG.RGR-NEG-REC.PST.IPFV
'He/she didn't come back.' (lit. 'He/she didn't get here returning.')

Coverbs are also in the scope of negative commands, which use the prohibitive construction (59–60):

- (59) *haččă:li-t is-pa-n^*
stand.GGR-CVB 2SG.A-eat-PROH
'Don't eat while standing!' (lit. 'Don't eat standing!')
- (60) *čoko:-či-n^, mat-ča-hì:čá-t*
sit.SG-2SG.A-PROH DIR-1SG.P-look.LGR-CVB
'Don't sit there looking at me!'

With the exception of coverbs, then, the scope of negation in Koasati is limited to the clause containing the negative element.

4.2 Negative polarity

I have so far not found any elements that only occur in negative environments.

¹⁸Kimball (1991: 227) refers to *-t* as a coordinating conjunctive suffix. See Broadwell (2006) for a similar suffix in Choctaw.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

In Koasati, the subject and non-subject case markers are often replaced by a “topic” marker *-p* (or *-ap* on pronouns) when a sentence is negative (61).¹⁹

- (61) a. akk-ok if-ok om
 that-FOC.SBJ dog-FOC.SBJ be
 ‘That is a dog.’
 b. akk-ap if-ok ko-ⁿ
 that-TOP dog-FOC.SBJ be.NEG-SF
 ‘That is not a dog.’

This use is reminiscent of Japanese *wa*, which is also called a topic marker and which may indicate the target of negation (see, for example, Hinds 1986: 149ff; Nyberg 2012: 45–46). When I have specifically tested this idea, however, I have found a poor correlation between *-p* and target of negation. This can be seen in (49–51) above, where *-p* is found several times in negative sentences, but doesn’t correspond with the target of negation. What is most striking about the examples in (49–51) is that *-p* appears on phrases that have been added after the verb (normally a position for afterthoughts).

My feeling is that *-p* serves to set a phrase apart from the rest of the sentence, whether to establish a frame of reference (‘as for X’, ‘if it is X’) or to fill in incomplete information (‘he’s going to town, John is’). In (62), for example, we see *-p* used in a constructed phone conversation between two people discussing plans for Thanksgiving.

- (62) kosn-ap ama:-hilka-laho-k om, Texas-ka-f-on,
 we-TOP go.TPL-1PL.A-FUT-SS be Texas-LN-LOC-FOC.NSBJ
 ča-fono:si-fa-ⁿ
 1SG.P-sister-LOC-NSBJ
 ‘Us, we’re going to Texas, to my sister’s.’

This usage seems common in exchanges of this type. One person makes a statement (e.g., ‘my name is Mary’) and then a second person might use *-p* to distinguish himself or herself from the previous speaker (‘me, my name is Betty’).

¹⁹Kimball (1991: 411) describes *-p* as a marker of “new topic” indicating “that the topic into which a discussion is about to enter, or which is just finished, is new, or contains new information.” In my experience, *-p* often clarifies or resumes an established topic. For now, I will simply refer to it as “topic”.

Why, then, would case markers commonly shift to *-p* in negative sentences? Negative sentences do commonly have a phrase in focus. That means that the other phrases will be out of focus (backgrounded). It may be that *-p* is used in negative sentences to mark the backgrounded phrases, which are often added as afterthoughts, as in (63).

- (63) ak-hĩ.č-o-:s, ya:fa-p
1SG.A.NEG-see.RGR-NEG-REC.PST.IPFV here-LOC-TOP
'I didn't see him over here.'

This would explain the frequency of *-p* in negative sentences, the fact that it may appear on multiple phrases, and the fact that these phrases are often (though not always) postverbal.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

I haven't yet found any examples where a distinct pattern is used to reinforce or emphasize negation in Koasati.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

As noted above, Koasati lacks true coordination, though extensive clause chaining and subordination are used. The scope of negation over various types of subordinate clauses is described in §4.1.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

As Fillmore (1963) observed, when a verb like *think* is negated in English, the implication is that it is the complement that is negated (thus *I didn't think that Linda would come* implies *I thought that Linda wouldn't come*).

Koasati does not have negative transport. In Koasati, the mark of negation goes on the verb of the semantically-negated clause (64–65).

- (64) Linda-k o<kĩ>nt-o-laho-ⁿ ä:lo-l
Linda-SBJ come<NEG>.RGR-NEG-FUT-DS think.GGR-1SG.A
'I don't think Linda will come.' (lit. 'I think Linda will not come.')
- (65) o<kĩ>:b-o-laho-ⁿ ä:lo-l
rain<NEG>.RGR-NEG-FUT-DS think.GGR-1SG.A
'I don't think it will rain.' (lit. 'I think it will not rain.')

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation is “a device for objecting to a previous utterance on any grounds whatever” (Horn 1989: 363). In Koasati, the verb *tikko-* ‘be not the case that’ can be used to focus negation on a particular element (66–67).

- (66) John-ka-k in-nă:ho-ⁿ, točči:na-t im-atlawista-k
 John-LN-SBJ DAT-have.RGR-SF three.RGR-SS DAT-children-SBJ
 ‘John has three children.’
- (67) ĩnko-ⁿ točči:na-t tikko-hči. ostă:ka-t in-nă:ho-ⁿ
 be.not.so.RGR-SF three.RGR-SS be.not-PTCP four.RGR-SS DAT-exist.RGR-SF
 ‘No, he doesn’t have three. He has four.’

As shown in (66–67), the verb *tikko-* ‘be not the case that’ appears to be used for metalinguistic negation. We have seen the same element used in negative questions (38), negation of lexical negatives (46), and alternative negative patterns like (48b). The common thread seems to be that *tikko-* has broader scope than the morphological negative.

4.6.3 Diachronic notes and observations

From a cross-linguistic perspective, two aspects of Koasati negation seem especially unusual: a. the use of three separate marks of negation (a form of *ik-*, *-o*, and use of the rising tone grade); and, b. the placement of the primary negative marker *ik-* as a prefix, infix, or suffix.

The prefixing pattern appears to have been limited to a set of ‘short’ verbs of the shape #(C)V(:)CV#. These were negated directly in an earlier form of the language, without an auxiliary, as in (68a).²⁰ This order of affixes is maintained in the modern language without change, as in (68b).

- (68) a. * ak-hĩ:č-o-ⁿ
 1SG.A.NEG-see.RGR-NEG-SF
 ‘I do not see.’
 >
 b. ak-hĩ:č-o-ⁿ
 1SG.A.NEG-see.RGR-NEG-SF
 ‘I do not see.’

²⁰See Booker (1980) and Martin & Munro (2005) for more discussion of negation in the Muskogean languages. The development of infixation in Muskogean is discussed in Yu (2007).

Short verbs that were inflected directly included *hiča*- ‘see’, *ha:lo*- ‘hear’, *ipa*- ‘eat’, *ila*- ‘get here’, *kaha*- ‘say’, and *noči*- ‘sleep’ (Class 1 verbs).

A larger set of verbs (Class 3) used periphrastic negation. In this pattern, an auxiliary **k*- was added after the verb, and the auxiliary was inflected for negation (69).

- (69) a. * *hopon-t āk-k-o⁻ⁿ*
 cook-SS 1SG.A.NEG-NEG.AUX.RGR-NEG-SF
 ‘I am not cooking.’
 >
 b. *hopon-tākko⁻ⁿ*
 cook-1SG.A.NEG-SF
 ‘I am not cooking.’

The modern language preserves this order, but now treats same subject *-t* as part of the negative marker.

The infixing verbs (Class 2) are more difficult to understand. Infixing verbs generally have the shape ...*C₁C₂V#*, where two different consonants appear before the final vowel. I would suggest that infixing arose when speakers began inflecting the final *C₁C₂V#* as though it were an auxiliary (70).

- (70) a. * *talwa-t āk-k-o⁻ⁿ*
 sing-SS 1SG.A.NEG-NEG.AUX-NEG-SF
 ‘I don’t sing.’
 >
 b. *ta<kă>lw-o⁻ⁿ*
 sing<1SG.A.NEG>.RGR-NEG-SF
 ‘I don’t sing.’

Verbs where the final *C₁C₂V* was inflected include *hokfi*- ‘put in’, *hofna*- ‘smell’, *hokfa*- ‘get inside’, *iltohno*- ‘work’, *ohompa*- ‘eat (several things)’, *onti*- ‘come’, and *talwa*- ‘sing’.

5 Summary

The various strategies for expressing negation are matched to their functions in Table 4. Koasati negation is marked on verbs with an affix *ik*- and a suffix *-o*. A negative verb must be in a specific aspect, called the rising tone grade. Verb

stems fall into different classes based on the placement of the *ik-* affix, which has different forms depending on verb class and fuses with agent person markers. Except for one specific coverb construction, the scope of negation is limited to the immediate clause containing the negated verb.

Table 4: Koasati negation strategies and their functions

Negation strategy	Function
<i>ik-</i> + <i>-o</i> + rising tone grade on verb	Standard negation §2.1, Negation in non-declaratives §2.2, Negative locative §2.3, Negative indefinites and quantifiers §3.2
<i>-nna</i> , <i>-n</i>	Negative command §2.2, §4.1
<i>ko-</i> ⁿ (lexical negative of <i>ommi-</i> ‘be’)	Negating nouns in equative clauses §2.3, Negative attributive clauses §2.3
<i>ikso-</i> ⁿ (lexical negative of <i>nă:ho-</i> ‘exist’)	Negative existential, negative ‘have’ §2.3
<i>inko-</i> ⁿ ‘no’	Negative reply §3.1
<i>-tikko-</i> ⁿ ‘be not the case that’	Negative yes/no question §3.1, Negative of lexicalized negative §3.3, Periphrastic negative §4.1, Metalinguistic negation §4.6.2

Koasati has rich verbal morphology. Negation can appear in different places within a verb to indicate that different elements are negated.

Stative predicates are generally negated in the same way as other predicates. The verb *ikso-* ‘not exist, not have’ is the only lexical negative form: other negatives are formed morphologically, though the verb *ommi-* ‘be’ is developing an irregular negative *ko-*.

Koasati negation, while complex, may have developed from a system like that in Finnish in which a negative auxiliary is inflected for person marking. In the case of Koasati, the system is more complicated in that a few short verbs can be inflected like auxiliaries, and some verbs allow a final prosodic unit (...C₁C₂V) to be inflected.

Acknowledgements

I am deeply indebted to the Coughatta Language Committee for sharing their knowledge with me. I would especially like to thank Bertney Langley, Lorenda

Jack B. Martin

Poncho, and Kathy Poncho for providing most of the Koasati forms in this paper. Linda Langley and Bertney Langley helped make arrangements for me to research this topic. I am also grateful to Ljuba Veselinova, Matti Miestamo, and two reviewers for comments.

Abbreviations

1	first person	LN	loan word marker
2	second person	LOC	locative
A	agent person marking	MED	medial
AUX	auxiliary	NEG	negative
CVB	coverb	NSBJ	nonsubject
DAT	dative	P	patient person marking
DIM	diminutive	PFV	perfective
DIR	directional prefix	PL	plural
DS	different subject	PTCP	participle
FOC	focus	PROH	prohibitive
FUT	future	PST	past
GGR	geminating rising tone grade	REC	recent
HGR	aspirating grade	RGR	rising tone grade
IMP	imperative	SBJ	subject
INF	infinitive	SF	sentence final marker
IPFV	imperfective	SG	singular
LGR	lengthened grade	SS	same subject
		TOP	topic
		TPL	triplural (three or more)

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Negation in Teotitlán del Valle Zapotec

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Negation in Zapotec (Otomanguean) languages is expressed by a variety of constructions that have not yet been broadly explored, perhaps due to the phonological and morphosyntactic complexity of the several dialects, as well as their extensive variation. In this chapter, I will discuss several negative constructions in Teotitlán del Valle Zapotec, a variety spoken in the Central Valley of Oaxaca, Mexico. I will show that in this language, as in other Zapotec languages, there are different negative constructions and negators that convey specific functions: standard negation; *not yet expressions*; negation in existential clauses; focus negation; *not even* (or emphatic) negative constructions, among others. As I demonstrate, most of the negative markers in this language are clitics and some of the negative constructions exhibit structural and paradigmatic asymmetries (Miestamo 2005, 2007).

Keywords: negation, prohibitives, clitics, Zapotec, indefinite pronouns.

1 Introduction: the language

In this chapter, I discuss various negative constructions that occur in Teotitlán del Valle Zapotec (TdVZ) (ISO: zap, Glottocode: teot1238).¹ This language is spoken by approximately five thousand speakers in Teotitlán del Valle, a town located in the Valley of Oaxaca, Mexico. It is part of the Otomanguean family, and within the Zapotec family, it is considered to belong to the central group (Smith-Stark 2007). For my discussion, the relevant features of TdVZ are the following.

TdVZ has VSO word order, and it follows most of the predicted correlations for VO languages (Dryer 1997). The verb takes an obligatory TAM prefix, and it can optionally be followed by a comitative suffix or an affective morpheme. After

¹The data presented here comes from the author, who is a native speaker of Teotitlán Zapotec and has been doing research on this language since 2011. Also, a corpus of at least 10 hours of transcribed and translated material have been used in addition to direct elicitation to explore the phenomenon discussed here.

these, free function word (FFW) adverbials may appear followed by adverbial enclitics. Also, between the TAM prefix and the verb, the grammaticalized verb roots æ 'go'² or æd 'come' may appear, glossed as AND and VEN, respectively, in the verb template in Figure 1. These indicate the movement of the subject to perform the action. In addition, if the subject is pronominalized, the clitic form attaches to the verb complex after the adverb enclitic(s) if any. The template in Figure 1 summarizes the structure of the verb, and an illustrative example is given in (1).

TAM-(VEN/AND-)VERB.STEM(-COM)(-AFFT) (FFW ADVERB(S))(=ADVERB(S))(=SUBJ)

Figure 1: Morphosyntactic structure of TdVZ verb

- (1) Re.'kī'.zá.dān 'xhǔb.
 r-e-kī'=zá=dān xhǔb
 HAB-go-toast=also=3PL.F corn
 'They also go (and/to) toast the corn.'

The preverbal position, on the other hand, contains at least three positions that may be filled by a subordinator, a focused noun phrase, and by the clausal negator, as in (2). If these cooccur, they must take the order shown below (i.e., subordinator – focused element – negation).

- (2) Kom 'Jwáyn kēd.rá.'zuyn.di, 'tyéz.rú
 kom Jwáyn kēd=ra-zuny=di tyéz=rú
 because Juan NEG=HAB-arrive=NEG good=more
 'zyó.pún.
 z'-yōp=ūn
 PROG-come:1PL=1PL.EXCL
 'Because Juan is/was not arriving, (we decided that) it was better for us to come.'

In TdVZ, vowels present a three-way distinction in phonation, that is, modal vowels /a, æ, i, ɪ, u, o/ contrast with creaky /a̰, æ̰, ɪ̰, ʊ̰, o̰/ and glottalized /aʔ, æʔ, ɪʔ, ʊʔ, oʔ/ vowels. Creaky vowels are represented in this chapter with the IPA symbol (̰) while glottalization is represented with an apostrophe ('). Also, the language has five contrastive tones (Uchihara & Gutiérrez 2019), which are represented here as follows: high (ˊ), mid (ˊ), rising (ˊ), falling (ˋ), while low tone

²/æ/ alternates with /e/ in non-accented syllables (Uchihara & Gutiérrez 2020)

is unmarked. In addition, there are several tonal processes, but three of them are important to mention here since they occur in most of the examples shown in this paper.

Firstly, High Tone Sandhi (HTS)³ of mid tone assigns a high tone to the following syllable within the same phonological utterance, as shown below. Notice that in (3a), the mid-tone of the verb root assigns a high tone to the pronominal clitic that lexically has a low tone (second line). In (3b), the mid-tone of the third person formal pronominal clitic assigns a high tone to the beginning syllable of the following noun *badqaw* ‘baby’, which lexically has a low tone.

- (3) a. Ri.'dxã.gán 'luy.
ri-dxãg=an luy
HAB-get.along.with=3SG.IF 2SG.IF
'S/he gets along with you.'
- b. Ru.'yā.nān bá.'d̥aw.
ru-yān=ān bad̥aw
HAB-feed=3SG.F baby
'S/he feeds the baby.'

Secondly, potential and counterfactual moods are marked with a prefix and a high or rising tone that typically docks onto the verb root. In the examples below, I show how the high tone that comes with these moods change the lexical tone of the verb root (second line), as in (4a) and (4b). This high tone can also be anchored to the first element of a compound, as in (4c).

- (4) a. ga.'zûyn
ga'-zuny
POT-arrive
'will arrive'

³The way in which the High Tone Sandhi (HTS) affects the following syllable depends on the lexical tone of this element, and whether this element is prominent or non-prominent. In the first case, the high sandhi affects low and mid tone, but it does not affect high, falling, or rising tones. On the other hand, the HTS affects the following low or mid tone differently. That is, if the following syllable is prominent and has a low tone, the HTS would result in a falling tone (HTS + $a \rightarrow \hat{a}$), but if the following syllable is non-prominent and has a low tone, the HTS would be expressed as a high tone (HTS + $a \rightarrow \acute{a}$). Nevertheless, with mid-tone, the HTS always triggers high tone on the following syllable whether this is prominent or non-prominent (HTS + $\bar{a} \rightarrow \acute{a}$).

- b. gu.'kí'
gu'-'kí'
POT-toast
'will toast'
- c. gu.kwá.'dyag
gu'-'kwadyag
POT-listen
'will listen'

Thirdly, the completive prefix has an allomorph that triggers a tone change in the verb root (glossed here as *COMPL*₂). This allomorph occurs in relativization, focus constructions, interrogatives, and clausal negation (see Gutiérrez et al. 2022 for more information on this topic). In (5) I show an example of a focus construction where this allomorph occurs.

- (5) 'Báč.dēn bá.'llŭb lo.'næz.
Báčd=ēn ba'-'llŭb low=næz
Pedro=FOC *COMPL*₂-sweep RN.face=road
'(It was) Pedro (who) swept the Street'

In the following, I describe various negative constructions in TdVZ and define the morphosyntactic status of the negators involved, using the negation questionnaire for describing negation systems (Miestamo 2025). Also, I discuss the asymmetries observed, if any. This situates TdVZ negative constructions into a broader typological perspective.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation (Payne 1985, Miestamo 2005) in TdVZ is expressed with the markers *kēd=* and *=di*. The proclitic *kēd=* appears pre-verbally while *=di* is attached post-verbally, where adverbial enclitics may occur.⁴ In (6) and (7) I show an affirmative clause and its negative counterpart. As noted, no asymmetries are

⁴*Kēd=* and *=di* are clitics since they present most of the phonological and morphosyntactic characteristics of this type of element in TdVZ (i.e., they are non-prominent elements, thus, there is no vowel lengthening even when *kēd=* is followed by a lenis consonant, and *=di* does not have coda; also, both morphemes have level, or non-complex tones: mid and tone respectively). In §2 I discuss their clitic morphosyntactic behavior.

observed in standard negation. The tone change on the prefix in (7) is due to Tone Sandhi (see §1).

- (6) Ru.'llub 'Jwáyn lo.'næz.
 ru-llub Jwáyn low=næz
 HAB-sweep Juan RN.face=road
 'Juan sweeps the road / the street.'
- (7) Kēd.rú.'llub.di 'Jwáyn lo.'næz.
 kēd=ru-llub=**di** Jwáyn low=næz
 NEG=HAB-sweep=NEG Juan RN.face=road
 'Juan doesn't sweep the road / the street.'

The proclitic *kēd*= may be separated from the verbal word (TAM + verb stem) if adverbial clitics⁵ modify the negated clause. Also, the enclitic =*di* may be separated from the verb if free function word adverbials occur in the clause, as shown in (8). Note that =*di* must occur before the NP, or pronominal clitic, arguments.

- (8) Kēd.zá.bi.'dzîyn 'ga.dyan 'nnay.
 kēd=zá=bi'-dzîyn **ga**=di=an 'nnay
 NEG=also=COMPL₂-arrive soon=NEG=3SG.IF yesterday
 'S/he didn't arrive early/soon yesterday either.'

Kēd= and =*di* are obligatory in monoclausal declarative sentences. If either *kēd*= or =*di* is omitted, the construction becomes ungrammatical. This is not the case in prohibitives, where the proclitic negator alone forms this negative construction (see §2.2.1)

Even though there are no asymmetries observed in relation to the form of the construction when the negative markers occur, the relation between negation and the aspectual markers is paradigmatically asymmetric. That is, not all declarative clauses have a negative formal counterpart, as I discuss below.

TdVZ has six productive TAM prefixes; three of which encode aspect (habitual, completive, progressive) and three encode modality (future, potential, and counterfactual). Any clause containing a verb with an aspectual prefix has a negative formal counterpart, as shown in the contrasted examples (9–11) below.

⁵In closely related varieties, these adverbial clitics have been discussed as second position clitics (Munro 2004).

- (9) a. 'Ræ'n 'nis.
 r-æ'=an nis
 HAB-drink=3SG.IF water
 'S/he drinks water.'
- b. Kēd.'ræ'.dyan 'nis.
 kēd=r-æ'=di=an nis
 NEG=HAB-drink=NEG=3SG.IF water
 'S/he doesn't drink water.'
- (10) a. Gwæ'n 'nis.
 gu-æ'=an nis
 COMPL-drink=3SG.IF water
 'S/he drank water.'
- b. Kēd.'gwæ'.dyan 'nis.
 kēd=gu'-æ'=di=an nis
 NEG=COMPL₂-drink=NEG=3SG.IF water
 'S/he didn't drink water.'
- (11) a. Ká.'yæ'n 'nis.
 káy-æ'=an nis
 PROG-drink=3SG.IF water
 'S/he is drinking water.'
- b. Kēd.ká.'yæ'.dyan 'nis.
 kēd=káy-æ'=di=an nis
 NEG=PROG-drink=NEG=3SG.IF water
 'S/he is not drinking water.'

However, a clause containing those prefixes that encode modality has certain characteristics in declarative as well as in negative constructions. First, in TdVZ a verb, or clause containing the potential, or the counterfactual prefix generally occurs in subordinated clauses where the negation of the main clause (predicate) involves the negation of the subordinate clause⁶ (see negative transport §4.6).

Second, although an indicative (main) clause with a verb prefixed with the

⁶A clause with potential or counterfactual prefix in a non-subordinated construction has an optative mood reading, as in (i), and not a declarative. In fact, the constructions below could be considered fronted complement clauses of an omitted desiderative verb.

future is common, as in (12), this does not have a formal negative counterpart.⁷ That is, the negative marker *kēd=* and the future prefix do not coexist, as shown in (12b). To negate a future event, the potential prefix must occur on the verb as shown in (13). Therefore, the negative counterpart of a declarative clause with a future prefix is one with a potential prefix.

- (12) a. 'Zæ'n 'nis.
 z-æ'=(a)n nis
 FUT-drink=3SG.IF water
 'S/he will drink water.'
- b. * Kēd.'zæ'.dyan 'nis.
 kēd=z-æ'=di=an nis
 NEG=FUT-drink=NEG=3SG.IF water
 Intended reading: 'S/he won't drink water.'
- (13) Kēd.'gæ'.dyan 'nis.
 kēd=g'-æ'=di=an nis
 NEG=POT-drink=NEG=3SG.IF water
 'S/he won't drink water.'

Third, although the counterfactual prefix does not occur in main clauses, a negative (non-subordinated) clause that involves the counterfactual prefix is common in TdVZ. In fact, a negative clause with a counterfactual prefix may alternate with a negative clause with a completive prefix. That is, a clause containing the counterfactual, or one with a completive prefix are both potential answers for a polar question whose answer is negative. For instance, if someone asks: *did s/he drink water?* and the answer is negative, both (10b) above or (14) are potential answers.

-
- (i) a. 'gæ'n 'nis
 g'-æ'=an nis
 POT-drink=3SG.IF water
 'May s/he drink water.'
- b. 'nyæ'n 'nis
 ni'-æ'=an nis
 CNTF-drink=3SG.IF water
 'May s/he have drunk water.'

⁷This TAM marker exhibits several restrictions in TdVZ; for instance, in *Serial Verb Constructions* (SVC), two verbs marked with the *future* are not possible (Gutiérrez 2014). In fact, various of these restrictions hold in other Central Zapotec varieties such as the San Dionisio Ocotepéc Zapotec (Broadwell 2012) and San Pablo Güilá Zapotec (López Cruz, personal communication).

- (14) Kēd.'nyæ'.dyan 'nis.
 kēd=ni' -æ'=di=an nis
 NEG=CNTRF-drink=NEG=3SG.IF water
 'S/he didn't drink (the) water.'

Standard negation in TdVZ is then paradigmatically asymmetric since not all indicative clauses have a negative counterpart, a verb prefixed with future does not have a formal negative counterpart and there are two alternative ways for expressing completive in the negative as compared to just one in the affirmative. This is summarized in the table below. Thus, following the typological classification defined by Miestamo (2005), TdVZ standard negation is considered here to be of the type A/Cat/TAM.

Table 1: Prefixes in declaratives and their negative counterpart in TdVZ

Prefix on declarative (main) clauses	Prefix on the negative counterpart
Habitual	Habitual
Progressive	Progressive
Completive	Completive or Counterfactual
Future or Potential	Potential

Also, due to the clitic status of the negative marker, it is clear that TdVZ exhibits syntactic negation and not morphological (Dahl 1979). Clitics are elements that attach at the phrase level. They can have different hosts and their position is not consistent. As mentioned, *kēd=* does not always precede verbs since adverbial clitics can interrupt the sequence *kēd=* + verb stem, as in (15); also, *kēd=* can appear with other lexical categories such as adverbials, as in (16), or interrogative pronouns, as in (17). This latter example also demonstrates the same clitic status for *=di*.

- (15) Kēd.pká.ru.'syā.dyán 'li.zan.
 kēd=pká=ru-syā=di=an liz=an
 NEG=always=HAB-clean=NEG=3SG.IF POSS.house=3SG.IF
 'He never cleans his home.' / 'He doesn't clean his home at all.'
- (16) Kēd.'æ.s.tá 'rū.núx.
 kēd=æstá r-ūn=u=x
 NEG=later HAB-cry=2SG.IF=DE
 'Don't be crying later!' (lit. 'Don't later you cry then!')

- (17) Kēd.'ká.li.dí 'byô'n.
 kēd=kālī=di b-yô'=un
 NEG=where=NEG COMPL-go:1PL=1PL
 'We went nowhere.'

Finally, a particular characteristic of standard negation is that it selects for the allomorph of the completive prefix that causes a tone change on the verb root (Gutiérrez et al. 2022). This tone change can be observed with verb roots that have a lexical low or mid tone, as shown in (18). The verb *-llūb* 'sweep' lexically has a low tone (second line in the example), and it takes a high falling tone (first line) when occurring with the completive prefix in standard negation. No other negative construction in TdVZ selects for this completive prefix allomorph.

- (18) Kēd.bá.'llūb.di 'Jwáyn lo.'næz.
 kēd=ba'-llūb=di Jwáyn low=næz
 NEG=COMPL₂-sweep=NEG Juan RN.face=road
 'Juan didn't sweep the road / the street.'

'Not yet' expression is a subtype of standard negation (§2.1) since it exhibits structural and functional characteristics of the latter in TdVZ. That is, the negator appears preverbally and =*di* is required post-verbally. Also, it negates a monoclausal predicate, as shown in (19).

- (19) Gád.gútx.'nyâ.di.dán.
 gád=g'-utxnyâ=**di**=dán
 NEG=POT-get.married=NEG=3PL.IF
 'They haven't gotten married yet.'

This negative construction, however, differs from the main type of clausal negation in two ways: 1) the proclitic negator is *gád*= instead of *kēd*=, and 2) the negated predicate/verb must be marked with the potential prefix, as shown above. This construction, as noted, is exclusive for events that have not occurred but will potentially do. Therefore, the meaning of the negative marker *gád*= is interpreted as 'not yet'.

Interestingly, this type of negative construction does not have an affirmative counterpart. Formally, its negative counterpart would be a declarative clause with the potential marker. However, as mentioned above, this type of predicate gets an optative mood reading, as shown in (20).

- (20) Gútɕ. 'nyâ.dân.
g' -utɕnyâ=dân
POT-get.married=3PL.IF
'That they get married (I say/suggest).'

Semantically, the affirmative counterpart of a ‘not yet’ expression may be a clause that expresses a (possible) completive event, as in (21), or a clause that indicates a previous state/process of an event that is expected to occur, as in (22). In the first case, the construction requires the adverbial marker *á*= ‘already’ and the completive prefix on the verb. In the second case, a verb with a stative prefix and the adverb *zegāk* ‘still’ must occur in the construction. In both cases, the negative counterpart varies from the affirmative one. Thus, this type of negation shows functional and structural asymmetries.

- (21) Á.bitx'.nyâ.dán.
á=bi-utxnyâ=dán
already=COMPL-marry=3PL.IF
'They are married.' / 'They have married.' (lit. 'Already they married.')
- (22) Ze.'gāk zu.'gwá'.nǎ.zī 'sá'.dán.
zegāk zugwā'-ná=zī sa'=dán
still STAT.dwell-COM=without.motives same.type=3PL.IF
'They are still living together with each other just because (without being married).'

A particular characteristic of this negative construction is that it has an alternative form. That is, the marker *gáti* alternates with *gád=* and *=di*, as shown in the examples (23–24) below. However, note that *gáti* is a prominent element, then, a phonological and morphosyntactic word, while *gád=* and *=di* are clitics. I posit that *gáti* is the conflation of *gád=* and *=di* since both negative constructions shown are in free variation in TdVZ.

- (23) 'Gá.ti gútɕ.'nyâ.dán.
gáti g' -utxnyâ=dán
NEG POT-get.married=3PL.IF
'They haven't gotten married yet.'
- (24) Gád.gútɕ.'nyâ.didán.
gád=g' -utxnyâ=di=dán
NEG=POT-get.married=NEG=3PL.IF
'They haven't gotten married yet.'

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

2.2.1 Negation of imperatives

Imperatives in TdVZ have two forms depending on the number of the addressee. Singular imperatives are formed with the completive prefix on the verb as in (25a). Plural imperatives are formed with the proclitic *gũl=* and potential prefix on the verb, as in (25b). Either imperative construction does not allow a subject as in a declarative clause. This, in addition to the tone allomorphy of the completive prefix, helps disambiguate the completive aspect from the singular imperative since in the former the subject NP or enclitic is obligatory, and the imperative prefix does not show an allomorph with a tone change.

- (25) a. Gu.'dow 'gæt.
 gu-dow gæt
 IMP.SG-eat tortilla
 'Eat (the) tortilla (you.SG)!'
- b. Gũl.'gâw 'gæt.
 gũl=g-aw gæt
 IMP.PL=IMP.PL-eat tortilla
 'Eat the tortilla (y'all).'

In the negation of imperatives (or *prohibitives*, *van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev) 2013*), a habitual prefix must appear on the verb if the action has started; otherwise, the potential marker is required. Also, prohibitive constructions require the subject on the verb, as shown in (26). As can be observed, in prohibitives, only the negator *kẽd=* is used; if *=di* is added, the negative construction is interpreted as the negation of a declarative statement, as shown in (27).

- (26) a. Kẽ.'drôw 'ndǎen!
 kẽd=r-aw=u ndǎen
 NEG=HAB-eat=2SG.IF that
 'Do not eat that!' / 'Stop eating that!'
- b. Kẽd.'gôw 'ndǎen.
 kẽd=g'-aw=u ndǎen
 NEG=POT-eat=2SG.IF that
 'Do not eat that!'

- (27) a. Kē.'drôw.dyu 'ndǎen.
 kēd=r-aw=**di**=u ndǎen
 NEG=HAB-eat=NEG=2SG.IF that
 ‘You do not eat that.’
 *‘Do not eat that!’
- b. Kēd.'gów.dyu 'ndǎen.
 kēd-g'-aw=**di**=u ndǎen
 NEG=POT-eat=NEG=2SG.IF that
 ‘You won’t eat that.’

2.2.2 Negation of interrogatives

In TdVZ, polar questions are formed using the proclitic (*l*)á=, as in (28). Notice that when this type of construction contains a negative clause in it, this requires both both *kēd*= and =*di*, as in (29). If any of these markers are omitted, the construction becomes ungrammatical, as shown in (30).

- (28) (L)á.row 'bǎkw.rǎ 'dzît?
 (l)á=r-aw bǎkw=rǎ dzît
 Q=HAB-eat dog=DIST.DEM bone
 ‘Does that dog eat bone(s)?’
- (29) (L)á.kē.'drôw.di 'bǎkw.rǎ 'dzît?
 (l)á=**kēd**=r-aw=**di** bǎkw=rǎ dzît
 Q=NEG=HAB-eat=NEG dog=DIST.DEM bone
 ‘Doesn’t that dog eat bone(s)?’ / ‘That dog doesn’t eat bone(s)?’
- (30) * (L)á.kēd.rôw 'bǎkw.rǎ 'dzît?
 (l)á=**kēd**=r-aw bǎkw=rǎ dzît
 Q=NEG=HAB-eat dog=DIST.DEM bone
 Intended reading: ‘Doesn’t that dog eat bone(s)?’

When a polar question acquires a rhetorical connotation (from a context in which an agreement is expected rather than an affirmative or negative answer), it is introduced by the interrogative marker *tā*=. In these types of interrogatives, =*di* becomes optional, as shown in (31).

- (31) Tā.kéd'rôw(di) 'bǎkw.rǎ 'dzît?
 tā=kēd=r-aw(=di) bǎkw=rǎ dzît
 Q=NEG=HAB-eat(=NEG) dog=DIST.DEM bone
 ‘That dog doesn’t eat bones?’ / ‘Doesn’t that dog eat bones?’

Interestingly, in a potential answer to the previous question, *=di* does not appear when the answer is introduced by *nī=*,⁸ which I gloss here as *not even*, as in (32). Nevertheless, if *nī=* doesn't occur, *=di* is obligatory, as shown in (33). Thus, polar rhetorical questions allow for the lack of *=di*, and when the potential answer of these is introduced by *ni=*, *=di* cannot occur.

- (32) Nī.kē.'drôw 'bækw.ræ 'dzît.
 nī=kēd=r-aw bækw=ræ dzît
 not.even=NEG=HAB-eat dog=DIST.DEM bone
 'That dog doesn't even eat bones.'

- (33) Kēd.'rôw.di 'bækw.ræ 'dzît.
 kēd=r-aw=di bækw=ræ dzît
 NEG=HAB-eat=NEG dog=DIST.DEM bone
 'That dog doesn't even eat bones.'

On the other hand, open questions in TdVZ are formed with the various interrogative elements, i.e., *tū=* 'who', *xī=* 'what', *kālí* 'where', *xá=*⁹ 'how', *gǔk* 'when', and *xíxh* 'why', that occur in the preverbal position, as shown in (34). These clauses are also negated with both *kēd=* and *=di*, as in (35). If any of these markers are omitted, the construction becomes ungrammatical. Thus, one could conclude that interrogatives are negated just like declaratives in TdVZ.

- (34) Tū.ri.'kqz 'txæ?
 tū=ri-kqz tx'-æ?
 who=HAB-want POT-go
 'Who wants to go?'
- (35) Tū.kēd.rí.'kqz.di txæ?
 tū=kēd=ri-kqz=di tx'-æ?
 who=NEG=HAB-want=NEG POT-go
 'Who doesn't want to go?'

Interestingly, as with polar rhetorical questions, the interrogative *xíxh* 'why', which introduces the (clausal) question with the subordinator *té=*, can omit *=di*,

⁸I have not been able to define the functions of this element, it is identical in form to the proclitic *nī=* that occurs in 'not even one' constructions (see §4.4), but it's function in this construction suggest that it may be another morpheme (with the same form) that adds the speaker's 'negative connotation' to the phrase.

⁹This interrogative was not tested since it is semantically awkward to ask *how didn't you do something?*

as shown in (36). The subordinator *té=* is the subordinator for purpose and reason adverbial clauses (Gutiérrez 2021).

- (36) Xíxh té.kēd.gwæ.(dy)u 'xkwily nna'.'dxi?
 xíxh té=kēd=gu'-æ(=di)=u xkwily nna'dxi
 why SUB=NEG=COMPL₂-go(=NEG)=2SG.IF school today
 'Why (is the case that) didn't you go to school today?'
 (The speaker sees that a student is at home during school hours)

The negation of non-declarative clauses differs from standard negation since prohibitives do not contain *=di*, and polar rhetorical questions and the interrogative with *xíxh* = 'why' allow for the lack of *=di*. However, polar and content questions (with *tū* = 'who', *xī* = 'what', *kālī* 'where', *gǔk* 'when') behave just like standard negation.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

2.3.1 Nominal and adjectival predication

In TdVZ adjectival or nominal predicate constructions occur with the copula *nā*, as shown in (37a) and (38a) respectively. As noted, in declarative sentences, the noun or adjective is first in the construction followed by the copula, and the subject takes the last position. The negation of this predication is expressed by the same markers as standard negation, that is, *kēd*= and =*di* cliticize to the copula, as in (37b) and (38b). Interestingly, the order of the elements varies in the negative counterpart since the copula (together with the negative clitics) must occur first in the construction. Therefore, this type of negation exhibits a constructional asymmetry.

- (37) a. 'Mwáes 'nā 'Báed.
teacher COP Pedro
'Pedro is (a) teacher.'
- b. Kēd.'ná.dí 'Báed 'mwáes.
kēd=nā=di Báed mwáes.
NEG=COP=NEG Pedro teacher
'Pedro is not (a) teacher.'
- (38) a. Na.'sínny 'năn.
nasínny nā=an
intelligent COP=3SG.IF
'S/he is intelligent.'

- b. Kēd.'ná.dyán na.'sínny.
 kēd=**nā**=di=an nasínny
 NEG=COP=NEG=3SG.IF intelligent
 'S/he is not intelligent.'

2.3.2 Locative predication

Locative predicates in TdVZ involve the use of a positional verb + a locative phrase that generally contains a body part relational noun, as shown in (39). Thus, in addition to stating existence and location, they also specify the position of the predicated entity.

- (39) 'Züb 'xhīt.kī kyæ.'yu'.
 züb xhīt=kī kyæ=yu'
 STAT.sit cat=TEMP.DEM RN.head=building
 'The cat is/was sitting on top of the roof.'

In order to negate this type of predicate, just as with standard negation, *kēd*= and =*di* cliticize to the verb stem, such as in (40). Since the negators cliticize to the positional verb, but the scope of negation is over the whole phrase, two possible readings are triggered: one that negates the place and one that negates the position. To specifically negate the location, focus negation must occur, this type of negation, however, is discussed in §??.

- (40) Kēd.'züb.di 'xhīt kyæ'yū'kī.
 kēd=züb=di xhīt kyæ=yu'=kī
 NEG=STAT.sit=NEG cat RN.head=bulding=TEMP.DEM
 'The cat is not sitting on that roof (is somewhere else).'
 'The cat is not sitting on that roof (but lying/ standing).'

2.3.3 Possessive predication

TdVZ, like many other languages, distinguishes between alienable and inalienable nouns. In this section, I describe one specific case of possessive predication with each type of noun. I look at cases that exhibit a more 'prototypical' possessive situation: the possessor is close to an object over which s/he has control (Stassen 2009). Thus, I show possessive predications of alienable nouns that occur with the verb *-āp* 'have' and possessive predication with body parts that occur with positional verbs. The first type occurs as shown in (41), while the second as in (42). As noted, the second construction requires a specific positional verb to

denote the attachment of the body-part to the body (of the possessor). This last type of predication can also occur with a verb of existence and can be negated as such; this is discussed in §2.3.5.

- (41) 'Rāp 'Bæd 'gû'n.
 r-āp Bæd 'gû'n
 HAB-have Pedro bull
 'Pedro has bull(s).'
- (42) 'Züb 'tyōp 'nyâñ.
 züb tyōp nyâ=ān
 STAT.sit two POSS.hand=3SG.F
 'S/he has two arms.' (lit. 'There is placed two hands of his/hers (a doll, for example).')

Both types of possessive predications are negated similarly to standard negation, that is, *kēd=* and *=di* attach to the verb, as in (43) and (44) respectively.

- (43) Kēd.rāp.dī 'Bæd 'gû'n.
 kēd=r-āp=di Bæd 'gû'n
 NEG=HAB-have=NEG Pedro bull
 'Pedro doesn't have bull(s).'
- (44) 'Kēdzübdi 'te 'nyâñ.
 kēd=züb=di te nyâ=ān
 NEG=STAT.sit=NEG INDF POSS.hand=3SG.F
 'S/he doesn't have an arm.' (lit. 'There isn't placed a hand of his / her (a doll, for example).')

2.3.4 Equation

One type of equative predication is used to express family relationships in TdVZ; this requires the copula *-ak* 'be', as shown in (45). As can be observed, this construction is similar to nominal and adjectival predication since the nominal that is being equated occupies the first position followed by the copular element. Also, to negate this type of predication, the markers *kēd=* and *=di* must occur on the verb, as in (46). In this type of negative construction, a word order change is also

observed when compared with the affirmative counterpart. Thus, this type of negation also exhibits a constructional asymmetry.¹⁰

- (45) 'Xhá.ná 'rak 'lăn.
 xhăn=a r-ak lăn
 POSS.mother=1SG HAB-be 3SG.F
 'She is my mother.'
- (46) Kēd.'rāk.di 'xhá.ná 'lăn.
 kēd=r-ak=di xhăn=a lăn
 NEG=HAB-be=NEG POSS.mother=1SG 3SG.F
 'She is not my mother.'

2.3.5 Existential predication

Existential predication is expressed by the verb *-u* 'exist'. This verb has a suppletive form in the stative aspect, i.e., *yū* STAT.EX, as shown in (47). Even though both forms belong to the same verb root, their morphosyntax and function are different. *Yū* STAT.EX differs from *-u* 'exist' since it has mid tone and its negative counterpart does not contain a verb, but the marker *kěty* NEG.EX, as in (48). Unlike the negator(s) in standard negation, this negative marker is not a clitic but a phonologically and morphosyntactically independent element.

- (47) 'Yū' 'nīs nna'.dxī.
 yū' nīs nna'dxī
 STAT.EX water today
 'There is water (service) today.'

¹⁰ A construction with a very similar meaning occurs with the pronoun in focus position, as in (i.a). However, the negation of this construction requires the focus negator, as in (i.b). This is discussed in §??.

- (i) a. 'lăn 'rāk 'xhá.ná
 lăn r-ak xhăn=a
 3SG.F HAB-be POSS.mother=1SG
 '[She]_{FOC} is my mother.'
- b. ádí.'lăn 'rāk 'xhá.ná
 ádí=lăn r-ak- xhăn=a
 NEG=3SG.F HAB-be POSS.mother =1SG
 '[She]_{FOC} is not my mother.'

- (48) 'Kěty 'nis nna'.dxi.
 NEG.EX water today
 'There is no water (service) today.'

On the other hand, *-u* 'exist' has a low tone and conjugates with the full TAM paradigm, as shown in (49) with the completive prefix. Interestingly, the latter is negated with the same markers that occur in standard negation; that is, *kēd=* and *=di* attach to the verb stem, as in (50). Thus, in TdVZ, *yū* 'STAT.EX is a lexicalized form of the verb that is used to predicate existence without indication of an initial or end point of that existence. On the other hand, *-u* 'exist' is a verb that is used to indicate an existence that has ceased or that will start sometime in the future.

- (49) 'Gu' 'nis 'nnay.
 g-u' nis nnay
 COMPL-exist water yesterday
 'There was water (service) yesterday.'
- (50) Kēd.'gû'.di 'nis 'nnay.
 kēd=g' -u'=di nis nnay
 NEG=COMPL₂-exist=NEG water yesterday
 There was not water (service) yesterday.'

Note that the negator for existential predicates *kěty* has some resemblance to the clausal negator *kēd=*.¹¹ This is a typologically common pattern for this type of predicate (Veselinova 2013). In TdVZ, the existential negator resembles the clausal negator, but it is not formally identical to it, and the phonological and morphosyntactic status of each element differs, as well as the constructions in which they appear.¹²

A particular characteristic of *kěty* NEG.EX is that it can host pronominal enclitics, as shown in (51). No other negator exhibit this property in TdVZ.

- (51) 'Kē.tyán 'gwâ'.
 kěty=an gu-â'
 NEG.EX=3SG.IF COMPL-go:1SG
 'He (was) not (there) (when) I went.'

¹¹In closer Zapotec varieties (i.e., San Pablo Guilá Zapotec (SPGZ), and SLQZ)) *kěty* (or *kity* or *ke'ity* respectively) is the negator in standard negation. This suggests that in TdVZ *kēd=* may be the evolved form of *kěty*, which has maintained its form in existential negation. Also, since the negation with *kěty* does occur with *=di* one could hypothesize that *kěty* may be the conflation of *kēd=* + *=di*, but in the closer varieties, the homologous of *kěty* does coexist with *=di*.

¹²Nevertheless, historically these two negators may have had one single source.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Most subordinate clauses are negated in the same way as monoclausal constructions. That is, the negator *kēd*= occurs preverbally and *=di* occurs post-verbally, as shown in (52) with a complement clause, in (53) with a relative clause, and in (54) with an adverbial clause. If *=di* is omitted in these constructions, they become ungrammatical.

- (52) Gu.dixh.'læ'n kēd.'gæd.dyán.
 gu-dixhlæ'=an kēd=g'-æd=**di**=an
 COMPL-tell=3SG.IF NEG=POT-come=NEG=3SG.IF
 'He told (us) that he will/would not come.'
- (53) Gu.'nnæz.dān 'bénny ní.kēd.gú.'dixh.dī.kī.
 gu-nnæz=dān bēnny ni=kēd=gu'-dixh=**di**=kī
 COMPL-catch=3PL.F person SUB=NEG=COMPL₂-COMPL:pay=NEG=TEMP.DEM
 'They caught the person who didn't pay.'
- (54) Ba.'tyu'.nan kom.kēd.bá.'zûyn.dyan.
 ba-tyu'n=an kom=kēd=ba'-zuyn=**di**=an
 COMPL-lose=3SG.IF SUB=NEG=COMPL₂-arrive=NEG=3SG.IF
 'He lost (in the game) because he didn't arrive.'

There are, however, various negative subordinated clauses in which *=di* is non-obligatory. For instance, in complement clauses used for reported speech,¹³ as in (55); in head fronted relative clauses, as in (56); and in adverbial conditional clauses, as in (57).

- (55) 'Ræby dok.'tór 'Llúpy kēd.'gáw.(dy)an bæl.'kūtx.
 ræby doktór 'Llúpy kēd=g'-aw(=**di**)=an bæl-kūtx
 COMPL.say.to doctor Lupe NEG=POT-eat(=NEG)=3SG.IF meat-pig
 'The doctor told (recommended) Lupe not to eat meat pork.'
- (56) 'Dbénny ní.kēd.gú.'dāw(di) 'ndæ 'zû 'ræ.
 d'=bénny ni=kēd=gu'-daw(=**di**) ndæ zu ræ
 PL=person SUB=NEG=COMPL₂-eat(=NEG) that STAT.stand LOC.ADV
 '(The) people that didn't eat are standing there.'

¹³The last construction is considered by Lee (1999) as being derived from an indirect imperative.

- (57) Txi.kēd.ræ.(di) 'Bæd 'xkwily, 'ræn lo'kǎntx.
 txi=kēd=r-æ(=di) Bæd xkwily r-æ=an low=kǎntx
 SUB=NEG=HAB-go(=NEG) Pedro school HAB-go=3SG.IF RN.face=court
 'When/if Pedro doesn't go to school, he goes to the court field.'

Also, there are counterfactual subordinated expressions, as the one shown in (58), which can also omit =di.

- (58) 'Blé kēd.nyáw.(di)á 'bæ'l'kǔtx té'nna'...
 Blé kēd=ni'-aw(=di)=a bæ'l+kǔtx té=nna'
 hopefully NEG=CNTRF-eat(=NEG)=1SG meat+pig SUB=now
 'I wish I hadn't eaten pork because now...'

In addition, there are subordinate clauses in which =di restricts the type of clause that may follow it. In (59), just as with *prohibitives*, relative clauses followed by a clause expressing a request do not allow =di. However, =di is optional in a similar construction if the following clause (the main clause) expresses a (declarative) consequence, as in (60). This suggests that =di contrasts with deontic modalities, specifically directive modalities.

- (59) 'Ddxâp ni.kē.drí'zî, 'gúyn.dán pa.'búr
 d'=dxap ni=kēd=ri-zî g'-uny=dán pabúr
 PL=girl SUB=NEG=HAB-buy POT-do=3PL.IF favor
 bî.ká.dán.
 biká=dán
 POT.be.removed=3PL.IF
 'Girls that would/do not buy, please do the favor of moving away.'
- (60) 'Ddxâp ni.kē.drí.'zî(di), 'ruyn 'gán.
 d'=dxap ni=kēd=ri-zî(=di) r-uny gán
 PL=girl SUB=NEG=HAB-buy(=NEG) HAB-do win
 'Girls that would/do not buy, win.'

Furthermore, there are subordinated adverbial conditional clauses in which the addition of =di results in ungrammaticality, as can be observed when comparing the examples below.

- (61) 'Bæll.ké.drí.'kə.zan gā.'dxâ.gan, 'syæ.nēn.
 bæll=kēd=ri-kəz=an gā'-dxag=an sî=an=ēn
 if=NEG=HAB-want=3SG.IF POT-get.tired=3SG.IF POT.buy=3SG.IF=3SG.INAN
 'If he doesn't want to get tired, he better buy it (something to help).'

- (62) * Bæll.ké.drí.'k̡a.za.dyan ga.'dxâ.gan,
 bæll=**kēd**=ri-k̡az=**di**=an ga'-dxag=an
 if=NEG=HAB-want=NEG=3SG.IF POT-get.tired=3SG.IF
 'sy̌æ.nēn.
 s̡i=an=en
 POT.buy=3SG.IF=3SG.INAN
 Intended reading: 'If he doesn't want to get tired, he better buy it
 (something to help).'

This fuzzy behavior of =*di* in subordinated clauses may not be defined by the syntax but by the semantics of the construction. That is, as I showed in (53–55), there are complement, relative and adverbial subordinated clauses in which =*di* is obligatory, but there are many others in which =*di* is not because there is no certainty as to whether the event expressed in the subordinate clause will occur or not.

As I have shown, *kēd*= is obligatory in all negative clausal constructions and in the three mood distinctions (declarative, interrogative, imperative) while =*di* is not. Therefore, *kēd*= is a negator in TdVZ, but the status of =*di* is less clear.¹⁴ However, since =*di* is obligatory in monoclausal declarative constructions, I consider it to be a negative marker in a double negative construction.

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

The present state of analysis does not allow me to say anything about these yet.

3 Non clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

The negative reply in TdVZ is *ā'ā* 'no'. This, however, is generally followed by the negated clause, as shown in the answer to the question in (63).

- (63) Q: (L)á.'gwæ Bæd 'Llwâ' 'nnay?
 (l)á=gu-æ Bæd Llwâ' nnay
 Q=COMPL-go Pedro Oaxaca yesterday
 Did Pedro go to Oaxaca yesterday?

¹⁴Diachronically =*di* may have been a marker that contributed to the declarative mood of the constructions it appeared. This is because the type of sentences that are not compatible with =*di* (e.g., prohibitives, requests, *bæll* 'if' conditionals) or that show =*di* optionally (counterfactuals, interrogatives, and *masy* 'even if' & *txi* 'when' conditionals), all involve possible events, but not facts.

A: 'Ā'ā, kēd.'gwæ.dyan.
 ā'ā kēd=gu'-æ=di=an
 NEG NEG=COMPL₂-go=NEG=3SG.IF
 'No, he didn't go.'

Interestingly, if the question contains a negative clause, as in (64Q), ā'ā 'no' would be used as an answer to indicate that the proposition is correct, as shown in (64A1). If the answer, on the other hand, contradicts the negative proposition, a declarative clause would occur as the answer, as shown in (64A2). In this type of negative construction then, the ā'ā 'no' agrees with the polarity of the question's proposition.

(64) Q: (L)á.kēd'gwædi 'Bæd 'Llwâ' 'nnay?
 (l)á=kēd=gu-æ=di Bæd Llwâ' nnay
 Q=NEG=COMPL₂-go=NEG Pedro Oaxaca yesterday
 Didn't Pedro go to Oaxaca yesterday?

A1: 'Ā'ā, kēd.'gwæ.dyan.
 ā'ā kēd=gu'-æ=di=an
 NEG NEG=COMPL₂-go=NEG=3SG.IF
 'No, he didn't go (you are right).'

A2: Gwæn.
 gu-æ=an
 COMPL-go=3SG.IF
 'He went (you are/were wrong).'

The existential negator *kěty* (§2.3.5) may also be used as a negative reply, as in (65), and this can optionally be followed by the negated clause. However, *kěty* generally occurs in replies that refer to future events, and which generally are directed to the interlocutor, as noted in the examples below.

(65) Q: (L)á.zew 'Llwâ'?
 (l)á=z-æ=u Llwâ'
 Q=FUT-go=2SG.IF Oaxaca
 Will you go to Oaxaca?

A: Kěty, kēdtxâ'dya.
 kěty kēd=tx'=â'=di=a
 NEG NEG=POT-go:1SG=NEG=1SG
 'No, I am not going to go.'

HC: this is for Sebastian: the links do not work to A and B. Not important here, but also in the previous examples

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

In TdVZ, the indefinite pronouns *nobody*, *nothing*, and *nowhere* are formed using the monoclausal negation markers (i.e., *kēd=*/*gád=* and *=di*) and the interrogative clitics, as I show in (66). These forms, however, are used only as short answers that do not contain a verb.

- (66) a. *kē.tú.dí*
 kēd=tū=di
 NEG=who=NEG
 ‘nobody’
 b. *kē.txí.dí*
 kēd=xí=di
 NEG=what=NEG
 ‘nothing’
 c. *kēd.ká.(lí)dí*
 kēd=kā(lí)di
 NEG=where=NEG
 ‘nowhere’

If the (questioned) verb occurs in the answer, the position of *=di* is now after the verb, as in (67a). Indefinite constructions can also occur with the potential mood clause negator *gád=*, as shown in (67b). This feature confirms the proposal that the negation of potential mood clauses is a subtype of clausal negation in TdVZ.

- (67) a. *Kēd.tú.bǎd.dí.*
 kēd=tū=b-ǎd=di
 NEG=who=COMPL-come=NEG
 ‘Nobody came.’
 b. *Gád.tú.gǎd.dí.*
 gád=tū=g’-ǎd=di
 NEG=who=POT-come=NEG
 ‘Nobody has come yet.’

In addition, when the question or the indefinite construction focalizes some specific noun, as in (68), the meaning as well as the construction are modified, as shown in (69). In this case, note that *=di* cliticizes right after the negated constituent.

- (68) (L)á.yũ' xí.gæt ba.'dæd.dān lǎn?
lá=yũ' xī=gæt ba'-dæd=dān lǎn?
Q=STAT.EX what=tortilla COMPL₂-give=3PL.F 3SG.IF
'Did they give him some/any tortilla?'
- (69) Kē.txī.gæt.di ba.dæd.dān lǎn.
kēd=xī=gæt=di ba'-dæd=dān lǎn
NEG=what=tortilla=NEG COMPL₂-give=3PL.F 3SG.IF
'They didn't give him/her any tortilla.' (lit. 'Any/no tortilla they gave him.')

The use of *kēd=* in these last examples does not seem to be negating nouns in a contrastive way but instead, their existence. Then, in this construction *=di* seems to add emphasis to the non-existence of the entity, like the negative item 'at all' in English.

Other means to form an indefinite pronoun in TdVZ do not involve negation. Therefore, I do not discuss them here.

3.3 Negative derivation

The present state of analysis does not allow me to say anything about negative derivation such as English *-less* or *un-*. Thus, in this section, I discuss focus negation since it is one of the most common strategies for negating nominals in Zapotec languages.

In focus negation, the marker *ádi=* is used to negate focused elements that appear in the preverbal position. The negated element can be a noun phrase or some other type of phrase, as shown in (70) and (71) respectively. This element has all the properties of clitics in this language even though it may be a compound element as I discuss below.

- (70) Á.dí.Jwáy(ín) ba.'llũb lo.'næz.
ádi=Jwáy(=ín) ba'-llũb low=næz
NEG=Juan(=FOC) COMPL₂-sweep RN.face-road
'It wasn't Juan who swept the street (but someone else).'
- (71) Á.dí.nna'.dxi 'txô'ũn.
ádi=nna'dxi tx'-æ=ũn
NEG=today POT-go=1PL.EXCL
'We won't go today (but some other day).'

Ádí= seems to be the remnant of a more morphologically complex structure that involves *ád=* ‘the negator’, a base (i.e., *lā*)¹⁵ and *=di*, as shown in (72). *Ádlādí* is in free variation with *ádí=* in more conservative registers.

- (72) *Á.dlā.dí* *Jwáyn(ín)* *ba.llūb* *lo.næz.*
ád=lā=di *Jwáyn(=ín)* *ba'-llūb* *low=næz*
 NEG=lā=NEG Juan(=FOC) COMPL₂-sweep RN.face-road
 ‘It is not the case that Juan swept the road / It wasn’t Juan who swept the road.’

I showed above that *gád=*, the negator in ‘not yet’ expressions, may merge with *=di* to form *gáti*. Thus, I assume that the same type of process derived the focus negator *ádí=*. I consider this to be the case since *ád=* and *=di* can appear separately, as shown in (73). In addition, when *ádí=* and *=di* co-occur the construction is ungrammatical, as in (74). Thus, *ádí=* contains *di=*, and the high tone of this element may be a remnant of the high tone this element acquired (and maintained) from the more complex form (*ádlādí*) in which *=di* was preceded by a mid-tone.

- (73) *Ád.dxap.di.ræ* *gú.'zjin.*
ád=dxap=di=ræ *gu'-zi=ín*
 NEG=girl=NEG=DIST.DEM COMPL₂-buy=3SG.INAN
 ‘It wasn’t that girl who bought it (but someone else).’

- (74) * *Á.dí.dxap.di.ræ* *gú.'zjin.*
ádí=dxap=di=ræ *gu'-zi=ēn*
 NEG=girl=NEG=DIST.DEM COMPL₂-buy=3SG.INAN
 Intended reading: ‘It wasn’t that girl who bought it (but someone else).’

Also, in (76), I demonstrate that *ád=* and *=di* are also used to negate other aspects of a nominal phrase; compare (75) vs (76) and notice that these elements surround the quantifier that modifies the noun.

- (75) *'Rá bēnny rú.kin* *'bæ̃l.*
rá bēnny ru-kin *bæ̃l*
 all person HAB-consume meat
 ‘All people consume meat.’

¹⁵ *lā* is a grammatical element that is used as a base to host clitics (Foreman 2006), but its origin and meaning is no longer transparent. *lā* also appears in the formation of independent pronouns (*lā + an = lān* ‘3SG.IF’).

- (76) Ád.rá.di 'bēnny rú.'kḭn 'bæɫ.
 ád=rá=di bēnny ru-kḭn bæɫ
 NEG=all=NEG person HAB-consume meat
 'Not all people consume meat.'

Moreover, notice that *ádí=* constructions generally result in contrastive focus negative readings, as in (77a). Also, when *ádí=* negates a verbal phrase, it is possible to move the negated verbal phrase after the verbal phrase that contrasts with it, as shown in (77a) vs (77b).

- (77) a. Á.dí.gu.'zyǣ.něn, ba.'dǎd.zī.dā.něn
 ádí=gu-zǐ=an=ēn ba-dǎd=zī=dān=ēn
 NEG=COMPL-buy=3SG.IF=3SG.INAN COMPL-give=only=3PL.F=3SG.INAN
 'lăn.
 lăn
 3SG.IF
 'It is not the case that s/he bought it, they gave it to him/her for free.'
- b. Ba.'dǎd.zī.dā.něn 'lăn,
 ba-dǎd=zī=dān=ēn lăn
 COMPL-give=only=3PL.F=3SG.INAN 3SG.IF
 á.dí.gu.'zyǣ.něn.
 ádí=gu-zǐ=an=ēn
 NEG=COMPL-buy=3SG.IF=3SG.INAN
 'They gave it to him/her for free, it is not the case that s/he bought it.'

There are two more syntactic aspects of *ádí=* that I should mention; first, there are instances in which an NP in the topic position can precede *ádí=*, as shown in (78). Second, as mentioned above, *ádí=* and standard negation can cooccur, as shown in (79). This last example demonstrates that the scope of each negator is defined and specific to the phrase they appear in.

- (78) 'Báed, á.dí'Jwáyn ba.'llŷb lo.næz.
 Báed **ádi**=Jwáyn ba'-llŷb low=næz
 Pedro NEG=Juan COMPL₂-sweep RN.face=road
 'Pedro, not Juan, swept the street.'
- (79) Á.dí.'dxāp.rāē kēd.'gwæ.di.
ádi=dxap=rāē **kēd**=gu'-æ=di
 NEG=girl=DIST.DEM NEG=COMPL₂-go=di
 'Not that girl didn't go.' / 'It isn't that girl that/who didn't go.'

Finally, just as the clausal negator *kēd=*, *ádi=* is not compatible with the future aspectual marker, as I show in (80). In order to negate a possible future event with a focused element, the potential marker should appear on the verb, as in (81).

- (80) * Á.dí.'dxāp.rǣ 'zūyn 'zūyn.
 ádi=dxap=rǣ z-uny zūyn
 NEG=girl=DIST.DEM FUT-do work
 Intended reading: 'That girl (is) not (the one who) will work.'

- (81) Á.dí.'dxāp.rǣ 'gúyn 'zūyn.
 ádi=dxap=rǣ g'-uny zūyn
 NEG=girl=DIST.DEM POT-do work
 'That girl (is) not (the one who) will work.'

Ádi=, then, is a remnant of a compound morpheme with complex morphology, but it does not acquire an accent and remains non-prominent since neither of its vowels lengthens as expected in this environment (/á/ is before a lenis consonant and /i/ is in syllable-final position). Also, the fact that *ádi=* or *ád=* + *di* attach to various lexical categories confirms that this morpheme is a (pro)clitic. However, *ádi=* perhaps is a more advanced stage of fusion than *gáti*, the 'not yet' expression negator, since it is more common for the speakers to use the merged form than the separated one.

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation: position and scope of the negative marker *kēd=*

In most Zapotec languages there is a preverbal position for focused elements. One might argue then that the negative proclitic *kēd=* occupies this focus position. The negative marker *kēd=*, however, can appear together with a focused NP, as shown in (82). Notice that the position of *kēd=* is fixed and cannot appear before the focused element assuming that it would move to the focus position, as shown in (83). Thus, the position of *kēd=* is before the verb, and due to its clitic status, *kēd=* would cliticize to it if no other proclitics appear.

- (82) [Jwáyn]_{FOC} kēd.bá.'llūb.di lo.'næz.
 Jwáyn kēd=ba'-llūb=di low=næz
 Juan NEG=COMPL₂-sweep=NEG RN.face=road
 '(It was) Juan (who) didn't sweep the street.'

- (83) * Kēd 'Jwáyyn 'ba.llŭb.di lo.'næz.
 kēd= Jwáyyn ba'-llŭb=di low=næz
 NEG Juan COMPL₂-sweep=NEG RN.face=road
 Intended reading ' (It was) not Juan (who) didn't sweep the street.'

Also, the scope of *kēd*= is over the verbal predicate, and not over constituents or focused elements. When a focused element is negated, the negative marker *ádí*= is required, as shown in (84). This type of negative construction was discussed in §??.

- (84) Á.dí.Jwáyyn kēd.bá.'llŭb.di lo.'næz.
 ádí=Jwáyyn kēd=ba'-llŭb=di low=næz
 NEG=Juan NEG=COMPL₂-sweep=NEG RN.face=road
 '(It wasn't) Juan (who) didn't sweep the street.'

4.2 Negative polarity

So far, I have identified two negative polarity items in TdVZ, i.e. *nītúy* 'not even one' and *nēkl(ā)* 'nor'. These are discussed in §4.4. and §4.5 respectively.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

The present state of analysis does not allow me to say anything about these yet.

4.4 Reinforcing negation: emphatic negative constructions (*not even one* expressions)

In TdVZ, there is an emphatic negative marker *nītúy*=¹⁶ (*nī*= + *numeral one*), which modifies a phrase that functions as an argument or as an oblique of a negated clause, as in (85) and (86) respectively. *Nītúy*= 'not even one', then, together with the negated clause, emphasizes that in a negated clause/event, not even one member of a category participates in it or that the event does not take place even once. Thus, *nītúy*= 'not even one' is a negative polarity item that only appears in negative clauses. In (85), note that *nītúy*= is generally followed by the free function word intensifier *tæ*, which further emphasizes this expression.

- (85) Kēd.bá.'zŭyn.di nī.túy('tæ)'bēnny.
 kēd=ba'=zuyn=di nītúy(tæ)=bēnny
 NEG=COMPL₂-arrive=NEG not.even.one(INTS)=person
 'Not even one person arrived.'

¹⁶This construction is also discussed by Galant & Foreman (2010) for other Zapotec varieties.

- (86) Nĩ.túb.dxi kēd.gwǎ.dyan.
 nĩtúy=dxi kēd=gu'-ǎ=di=an
 not.eve.one=day NEG=COMPL₂-go=NEG=3SG.IF
 'Not even one day he went.'

Nĩtúy 'not even one' is polymorphemic, since it can get morpho-syntactically complex. That is, *nĩ=* 'not even' can be separated from *tuy* 'one' by other elements, as in (87).

- (87) Nĩk.txá.'tuy ('tǽ) 'bēnny kéd.bá.'zũyn.di.
 nĩ=kā=txá=tuy ('tǽ) bēnny kēd=ba'=zuyn=di
 not.even=AFF=maybe=one (INTS) person NEG=COMPL₂=arrive=NEG
 'Not even one single person arrived.'

Given that *nĩtúy* is an emphatic negator, it typically appears in the preverbal position together with the modifying noun as was shown in (86) and (87). Also, the fact that *nĩtúy* 'not even one' emerges only in negative constructions differentiates this type of negation from other negative constructions discussed in this chapter.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

In addition to *nĩtúy* 'not even one', another element that could be considered a negative polarity item is *nēkl(ā)* 'nor'. This element could be the conflation of the conjunctive element conjunction *nǎ=* 'and' and the enclitics *=k(ā)* 'as expected' and *=lā* 'also'. *Nēkl(ā)*, which I translate as 'nor', occurs within a negated clause to coordinate two or more NPs (or other type or phrases),¹⁷ as shown in (88). This element is much less common coordinating two clauses, cases such as in (89) were not completely accepted as grammatical for various speakers.

- (88) Kē.drú'rak.di 'gǽl nē.kl(ā).bí.'zǎ, nē.kl(ā).gīt.
 kēd=rú=r-ak=di gǽl nēkl(ā)=bizǎ nēkl(ā)=gīt
 NEG=more=HAB-be.done=NEG milpa CONJ=bean CONJ=pumpkin
 'Milpa is no longer harvested (good), nor beans, nor pumpkin.'

¹⁷Salaberri (2022) refers to this type of constructions as Emphatic Negative Coordination.

- (89) Kē.dbá.'yá'.dī.dān né.kl(ā).kéd.'gwæ'.dī.dān
 kēd=ba-yā'=di=dān nēkl(ā)=kēd=gu'-æ'=di=dān
 NEG=COMPL₂-dance=NEG=3PL.F CONJ=NEG=COMPL₂-drink=di=3PL.F
 nē.kl(ā)...
 nēkl(ā)=
 CONJ=
 'They didn't dance nor (did they) drink, nor...'

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation: negative transport

A case of negative transport that I have identified occurs in complement constructions, specifically with complement taking predicates that select for less finite complements. Less finite complements in TdVZ are those that are restricted to occur with the potential or counterfactual prefixes on their verbs, or they copy the aspectual marker of the main clause/predicate. Thus, negative transport occurs with manipulatives (e.g., *-udxun* 'impede'), achievement (e.g., *-yexh* 'dare') and desiderative (e.g., *-kəz* 'want') verbs, among others (see Gutiérrez 2021 for more information about this topic). In (90) and (91) I show an example of negative transport with the predicates *-yexh* 'dare' and *-kəz* 'want' respectively.

- (90) Kēd.'gyéxh.dyan gú.nya.nnēn.
 kēd=g'-yexh=di=an g'-uny=an=ēn
 NEG=POT-dare=NEG=3SG.IF POT-do=3SG.IF=3SG.INAN
 'S/he won't dare to do it.'
- (91) Kēd.ri.'kəz.di 'Jwáyn 'nyæ'n 'nis.
 kēd=ri-kəz=di Jwáyn ní'-æ'=an nis
 NEG=HAB-want=NEG Juan CNTF-drink=3SG.IF water
 'Juan didn't want to drink water.'

5 Conclusion

In this chapter I have described various types of negative constructions in TdVZ, and I have defined the status of the negative markers they use. I have shown that various of these negative markers require the negative morpheme =di. In Table 2, I summarize the status and functions of the negative markers in TdVZ.

Also, I have shown that standard negation is syntactic (Dahl 1979) in TdVZ, and I have described the paradigmatic asymmetries that this construction exhibits.

Table 2: Negative markers in TdVZ

	Standard / (mono-) clausal negation	'Not yet' expression	Negative existential	Focus negation
Negative markers	kēd=	gád=, gáti	Kéty	ádi=, ádlādi, ād=
Require =di	Yes	Yes	No	Yes
Status	Clitic	Clitic & word when combined with =di	Word	Clitic & word when occurs with lā
Separable with =di	Always	Optional	Does not apply	Optional
Used in other negative constructions	Yes: Subordinated clauses and indefinites	Yes: Subordinated clauses, and indefinites	No	Yes: Contrastive clauses
TAM restrictions	Does not co-occur with the Future prefix	Requires the Potential prefix on the verb, no other TAM categories are allowed	No TAM category is allowed.	Does not co-occur with the Future prefix

Therefore, I consider it to belong to type A/CAT/TAM in *Miestamo*'s categorization (2005, 2007).

Moreover, I have discussed other negative constructions that have not received much attention in Zapotec languages: a subtype of standard negation (i.e., '*not yet*' expressions), existential negation and focus negation. All these constructions have different negators. However, the negator for '*not yet*' expressions and the focus negator (*gád=* and *ád=* respectively) seem formally similar, but their function and scope are different: *gád=* is used to negate clauses that express events that have not occurred while *ád=* is used in focus constructions to mainly negate noun phrases. However, both types of negators occurs with =di as a merged element or as a morpheme that occur after the negated element. On the other hand, the existential negator in TdVZ resembles the clausal negator but is not identical to it.

In addition, I briefly described two other aspects of negation in TdVZ: indefinite pronouns, the negative polarity item *nēkl(ā)=*, and empathic negation with *nītúy=* '*not even one*'. Indefinite pronouns are formed with the same negators as standard negation, *nēkl(ā)=* coordinates two phrases within a negative clause and *nītúy=* reinforces negation. Table 3 summarizes the negative markers of TdVZ and their functions.

Further research needs to be done in biclausal negative constructions in TdVZ and in other Zapotec varieties to define the quirky behavior of =di in subordinate negative constructions. Also, it is important to explore all those constructions that indicate negation to get a better understanding of this phenomenon in this family of languages.

Table 3: Teotitlán del Valle Zapotec negative markers and their functions

Negative marker	Require =di	Function	Section
<i>kēd=</i>	yes	Standard negation	§2.1
	no	Negation of imperatives	§2.2.1
	yes	Negation of interrogatives	§2.2.2
	yes	Negation of stative predications	§2.3.1–§2.3.4
	optional	Negation in non-main clauses	§2.3
	yes	Negative Indefinites	§3.2
<i>gád=</i>	yes, and not when occurs as <i>gáti</i>	“Not yet” expression	§2.1
<i>kěty</i>	no	Negating existential	§2.3.5
<i>ád=</i>	yes, and not when occurs as <i>ádí=</i> or <i>ádlādí</i>	Focus/constituent negation	§3.3
<i>ā’ā</i>	N/A	Negative reply	§3.1
<i>nītúy=</i>	N/A	Emphatic negative construction	§4.4
<i>nēkl(ā)=</i>	N/A	Negative polarity item	§4.5

Abbreviations

1	first person	IF	informal
2	second person	IMP	imperative
3	third person	INAN	inanimate
ADV	adverb	INDF	indefinite article
AFFT	affective	INTS	intensifier
AFF	affirmative	LOC	locative
AND	andative	NEG	negative
COM	comitative	PL	plural
COMPL	completive	POSS	possessive
CONJ	conjunction	POT	potential
COP	copula	PROG	progressive
CNTF	counterfactual	Q	question marker
DE	discursive element	RECP	reciprocal
DEM	demonstrative	RN	relational noun
DIST	distal	STAT	stative
EXCL	exclusive	SUB	subordinator
F	formal	SG	singular
FOC	focus	TEMP	temporal
FUT	future	VEN	venitive
HAB	habitual		

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Negation in Chuxnabán Mixe

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Chuxnabán Mixe, a Mixe-Zoquean language spoken in Oaxaca, Mexico, has a complex grammar of negation with different constructions for different types of negative expressions and negative constructions interacting with the grammatical structure of the clause. This chapter zeroes in on the functions and uses of the negative particles *ka'ap* and *kētii*, the negative prefix *ka-*, and the proclitic *nii*-. Further, the interaction with other structures and multiple expressions of negation are examined, in addition to special forms in prohibitives, negative existentials, and multiple negation strategies in non-verbal clauses. In general, the negative particle *ka'ap* can be used in all types of negation. It always precedes the predicate, and its presence triggers a special verb form, including a separate set of person markers. The verb may also include the negative prefix *ka-* instead of or in addition to *ka'ap*. The negative particle *ka'ap* can also directly precede a constituent to be negated. Constituent negation may also be expressed with the negative proclitic *nii*-. A special negative particle *kētii* is used in prohibitives, in clauses with 'neither', in negative polar questions (also non-verbal and existential polar questions), and in tag questions. There is no formal distinction between prohibitives and negative polar questions. Interesting is the fact that non-verbal clauses exhibit multiple strategies for both affirmatives and negatives with different verbalizers and the irrealis enclitic =*ēch* in some negative forms

Keywords: Mixe-Zoquean languages, negative particles, prohibitives, non-verbal negation, negative prefix.

1 Introduction

Chuxnabán Mixe (ISO: **pxm**, Glottocode: **quet1239**¹) is a Mixe-Zoquean language spoken by about nine hundred people in one village, San Juan Bosco Chuxnabán, in Mexico (longitude/latitude: 17°01'08.3"N 95°49'46.6"W). Linguistic vitality is *unsafe*, *vulnerable* or *at risk* following the UNESCO framework (**Brenzinger et al.**

¹This Glottocode is now outdated, but has been used in the past.

2003), given that education and literacy development occur almost exclusively in the dominant language Spanish. Nevertheless, all community members still speak the language, and there is intergenerational language transmission.

The Mixean territory includes two hundred and ninety communities divided into nineteen municipalities (Torres Cisneros 1997). The dialects of the villages within a single municipality are generally mutually intelligible, although speakers identify dialectal differences. Geographically, the region differentiates highlands, midlands, and lowlands. The geographic groupings are somewhat reflected in the genetic division of the languages. The Mixe-Zoquean language family includes seventeen languages, according to Ethnologue, subdivided into a Mixean and a Zoquean branch (Eberhard et al. 2019). Chuxnabán Mixe, a Oaxaca Mixean language, belongs to Quetzaltepec Mixe, which is also the municipality of the village. Looking at diachronic developments within the language family, Wichmann (1995: 10) identifies Lowland, Midland, South Highland, and North Highland Mixe. Chuxnabán Mixe belongs to Midland Mixe. Overall, the Mixean dialects spoken in the two hundred ninety communities have been classified for the most part as eight distinct languages with some differences between the sources.

The data for this paper stems from personal fieldwork in the village in 2008 and 2011 where I collected 60 oral narratives (1–15 minutes in length) and 2 dinner-table conversations (30 and 50 minutes in length). I transcribed both conversations and 11 narratives that yielded over 250 examples of negation from the naturally occurring data. This data was complemented with elicitation sessions in 2018 to obtain positive clauses and to fill gaps. Data from grammars of related languages, i.e. Ayutla Mixe (Romero-Méndez 2009) and Sierra Popoluca (Boudreault 2018), was also studied. Unfortunately, negation has received little attention in the grammars, and no detailed study of negation in any Mixean language is available. This paper constitutes the first detailed treatment of the topic within the language family.

1.1 Typological profile

Chuxnabán Mixe can be characterized as polysynthetic and head-marking with a hierarchical and inverse alignment system based on person, animacy, and topicality. There are independent and dependent verb paradigms for person and aspect and modal markers, although the dependent inflection is a highly language specific category and not related to clausal dependency. These verb inflections also involve verb stem alterations. There is no nominal case marking, except for the locative; and there is optional number marking for animates. Word order is relatively flexible, but generally verb-final. In what follows, I briefly present the

person marking system, the dependent and independent verb inflections, and the TAM system.

The most prominent participant in an event is marked or cross-referenced on the predicate, following a hierarchical and inverse grammatical system. The hierarchy is determined by person: first > second > third, animacy: animate > inanimate, and topicality: human/topical > human/non-topical. The position of a participant on the hierarchy is further signaled by direct or inverse alignment. When participants in a clause are such that the actor outranks the undergoer, there is direct alignment. If the opposite occurs, there is inverse alignment, indicated with a special inverse suffix *-ë* (only marked if a third person acts on a second or if a less topical third person acts on a more topical third person). The grammatical indexing system is summarized in Table 1 and the indexes in Table 2.

Table 1: Grammatical indexing system

Relation	Marking	Inverse marker
1 > 2, 1 > 3	1.A	-
2 > 1, 3 > 1	1.P	no
2 > 3	2	-
3 > 2	2	yes
3 > 3'	3.A	-
3' > 3	3.P	yes

Table 2: Grammatical indexes

Independent paradigm				Dependent paradigm			
Person	S	A	P	Person	S	A	P
1SG	ø-	<i>n-</i>	<i>x-</i>	1SG	<i>n-</i>	<i>n-</i>	<i>x-</i>
2SG	<i>m-</i>	<i>m-</i>	<i>m-</i>	2SG	<i>m-</i>	<i>x-</i>	<i>m-</i>
3SG	ø-	<i>y-</i>	ø-	3SG	<i>y-</i>	<i>t-</i>	<i>y-</i>
1PL.INCL	ø- <i>-ëm</i>	<i>n- -ëm</i>	<i>x- -ëm</i>	1PL.INCL	<i>n- -ëm</i>	<i>n- -ëm</i>	<i>x- -ëm</i>
1PL.EXCL	ø- <i>-të</i>	<i>n- -të</i>	<i>x- -të</i>	1PL.EXCL	<i>n- -të</i>	<i>n- -të</i>	<i>x- -të</i>
2PL	<i>m- -të</i>	<i>m- -të</i>	<i>m- -të</i>	2PL	<i>m- -të</i>	<i>x- -të</i>	<i>m- -të</i>
3PL	ø- <i>-të</i>	<i>y- -të</i>	ø- <i>-të</i>	3PL	<i>y- -të</i>	<i>t- -të</i>	<i>y- -të</i>

In addition to person, singular and plural forms are distinguished, as shown in (1).

- (1) Person hierarchy 1 > 2 > 3
- a. xyuujxp
x-yuujx-p
1P-wake.up-ASP.IND
'You/s/he wake(s) me up.'
 - b. myuujxëp
m-yuujx-ë-p
2O-wake.up-INV-ASP.IND
'S/he wakes you up.'
 - c. myuujxtëp
m-yuujx-të-p
2A-wake.up-PL-ASP.IND
'You wake them up.'

The person prefixes show two inflections (see Table 2), one for the independent and one for the dependent construction. As with other Mixean languages, all predicates are treated as either independent or dependent, each with its own set of inflectional person and aspect and mood markers, in addition to verb stem changes. In (2a) and (2b) the second person actor is indicated with a different prefix in each construction, *m-* and *x-* respectively. Equally, the example illustrates the two different verb stem shapes and aspect markers.

- (2) a. Independent:
maatsyüüjchpy.
m-yaa-tsyüüjch-p
2A.IND-CAUS-hurt-ASP.IND
'You hurt him.'
- b. Dependent:
ka'ap xyaatsyüch.
ka'ap x-yaa-tsyüts-y
NEG 2A.DEP-CAUS-hurt-ASP.DEP
'You don't hurt him.'

Dependent inflection is triggered when a non-core constituent is placed before the predicate. This includes locative or temporal adverbs (e.g., *axë'ëy* 'yesterday', *xëmmë* 'always' or *yaa* 'here'), temporal particles (e.g., *tëë* 'before now',

oojts ‘past’), the negative particle *ka’ap* and certain negative words formed with the negator *nii=*, the dubitative *wā’ān*, and in questions where the interrogative word is not a core argument (e.g., *ma* ‘where’). The labeling of this inflectional distinction is somewhat unfortunate, given that it is not related to dependency, but it conforms to the terminology used in previous work (Romero-Méndez 2009, Wichmann 1995). I have not examined the tense-aspect-mood system in detail, and the analysis presented here is based on the overall data collected (i.e., not including targeted elicitation of tense-aspect-mood), Wichmann’s (1995) reconstruction of Mixe-Zoquean, and Romero-Méndez’ (2009) analysis of Ayutla Mixe. The different forms as they appear in Ayutla Mixe are presented in Table 3. Note that “Stem A, B, C” are arbitrary labels used by the author to describe the stem alternations in Ayutla Mixe.

Table 3: Verb stems in Ayutla Mixe (from Romero-Méndez 2009)

Type of clause	Independent inflection	Dependent inflection
Neutral aspect (incompletive aspect in other Mixean languages)	Stem B + <i>-p</i> (intransitive) Stem B + <i>-yp</i> (transitive) Stem B + <i>-të + -p</i> (plural)	Stem A + <i>-y</i> (singular) Stem B + <i>-t</i> (plural)
Completive aspect	Stem C Stem C + <i>-t</i> (plural)	Stem C + <i>-y</i>
Irrealis mood	Stem A’ + <i>-p</i> Stem A’ + <i>-të + -p</i>	Stem A’ + <i>-t</i> Stem A’ + <i>-të -t</i>
Perfect (e.g., neutral)	Stem B + <i>-në + -të + -p</i> (plural)	Stem B + <i>-në + -t</i> (plural)

It is worth mentioning that in addition to the verbal suffixes there are particles encoding tense, aspect, and mood. These are independent words that occur in pre-verbal position, but otherwise show flexible word order. They include the perfective *tëë* ‘before now’, the past tense marker *oojts*, the imperfective *iich* or *tii iich*, the dubitative *wā’ān*, and the hypothetical *keexy*.

2 Clausal negation

In this section, I examine negation strategies based on the type of the negative marker(s) and the structure of the negative clause as a whole focusing on symmetric versus asymmetric negation in the sense of Miestamo (2007, 2009, 2013a,b, 2017) for both constructional and paradigmatic asymmetries. As has been shown (Horn 2010, Kahrel & van den Berg 1994, Payne 1997), negation strategies may

interact with marking on other constituents and may result in multiple expression of negation within a clause. The latter may result in negative concord, i.e. multiple negators in a single negation (Horn 2010); as is the case with Chuxnabán Mixe. I distinguish standard negation, i.e. the negation of declarative verbal main clauses (Miestamo 2005), from non-standard negation, which includes negation strategies in prohibitives, existentials, non-verbal clauses, and subordinate clauses.

2.1 Standard negation

It is generally acknowledged that all languages have grammatical means to negate clauses, so every language has one or more constructions that can be identified as standard negation (Miestamo 2005, 2007). In Chuxnabán Mixe, in general and most frequently, the negative particle *ka'ap* is used in standard negation. The negative particle *ka'ap* always triggers dependent inflection (see also §2.1.1), as shown in (3) and (4).

- (3) a. *kääpy.*
y-kay-p
3A.IND-eat-ASP.IND
'He eats/ate (something).'
- b. *ka'ap tkaanyë.*
ka'ap t-kay-në
NEG 3A.DEP-eat-ASP.DEP
'He doesn't/didn't eat (something).'
- (4) a. *ja ja'ay tëëjkëtëp.*
ja ja'ay ø-tëëjkë-të-p
DEM people 3S.IND-enter-PL-ASP.IND
'The people entered.'
- b. *ka'ap ja ja'ay chimtë'këtë.*
ka'ap ja ja'ay y-tsimtë'kë-të
NEG DEM people 3S.DEP-enter-PL
'The people didn't enter.'

The negative particle occurs most often clause-initially. It can be preceded by arguments and adverbials, as in (5) and (6).

- (5) *tääpë Tinnë ka'apës oojts xnyiikaapxtu'utë.*
tääpë Tinnë ka'ap=ës oojts x-niikaapxtu'ut-të
 this Tino NEG-1.EMPH PST 1P.DEP-defend-PL
 'This Tino didn't defend us.'
- (6) *tää jyä'chë yaa ka'ap myo'k t'xuujtë.*
tää jyä'ch yaa ka'ap y-mo'k t'xuuj-të
 before.now many here NEG 3POSS.corn 3A.DEP-put.chemicals-PL
 'Many (people) here don't put chemicals in their corn.'

In (5) and (6), *ka'ap* can be moved before or after any noun phrase or particle, as long as it remains in pre-verbal position. Post-verbal position is ungrammatical. Emphatic or evidential clitics can be attached to it, as in (5) and (7b). In addition, a demonstrative can cliticize to the negative particle; this often seems to occur when evidential clitics are present, and the demonstrative follows the evidential, as in (7b). The negator *ka'ap* also occurs with the particle *jëk* 'already' to express a meaning of 'not anymore', as in (8b) and (9b).

- (7) a. *yë'ë pëtsë'ëmp.*
yë'ë ø-pëtsë'ëmp-p
 DEM 3S.IND-go-ASP.IND
 'She is going out.'
- b. *ka'apëkjä'ä ma pyëtsiimp.*
ka'ap=ëk=jä'ä ma y-pëtsiimp
 NEG=EVID=DEM there 3S.DEP-go.DEP
 'She is not going out.'
- (8) a. *jak kääpy.*
jak ø-kääy-p
 still 3S.IND-eat-ASP.IND
 'He is still eating.'
- b. *ka'apëk tkaanyë.*
ka'ap=jëk t-kaay-në
 NEG=already 3A.DEP-eat-ASP.DEP
 'He is not eating anymore.'
- (9) a. *miimpëk jä'ä mo'kx.*
ø-miim-p=jëk jä'ä mo'kx
 3S.IND-come-ASP.IND=already DEM opossum
 'The opossum was already coming.'

- b. ka'apëk jä'ä mo'kx jëkmyinnë.
 ka'ap=jëk jä'ä mo'kx jëk=y-min-në
 NEG-already DEM opossum already=3S.DEF-come-ASP.DEF
 'The opossum wasn't coming anymore.'

Chuxnabán Mixe further has a negative verbal prefix *ka'* that occurs occasionally in standard negation, as in (10) and (11). It is significantly less frequent than the negative particle *ka'ap* in the data and mostly occurs in non-standard negation in combination with other negative markers (see §3.2). Note that the verbal prefix *ka'* does not provoke the dependent paradigm. In (10a) and (10b), the dependent marking is triggered by the presence of the subordinator *ko* 'since'²; in (11a), dependent paradigm appears due to the presence of the preverbal particle *nii*.

- (10) a. ko jëtu'un ja ja'ay ntaa'oyëtë.
 ko jëtu'un ja ja'ay t-naa-'oyë-të
 since so DEM people 3A.DEF-CAUS-fix-PL
 'Since the people fixed it.'
- b. ko jëtu'un ja ja'ay tka'ja'oyëtë.
 ko jëtu'un ja ja'ay t-ka'-ja-'ooyë-të
 since so DEM people 3A.DEF-NEG-CAUS-fix-PL
 'Since the people didn't fix it.'
- (11) a. yaakëjxpy iich ja kääky.
 y-yaa-këëjxpy iich ja kääky
 3A.IND-CAUS-end PST DEM tortilla
 'They finished the tortilla.'
- b. nii yë'ë tkajakëxy ja kääky.
 nii yë'ë t-ka'-ja-këxy ja kääky
 PST DEM 3A.DEF-NEG-CAUS-end DEM tortilla
 'They didn't finish the tortilla.'

The negative particle and the negative prefix likely derive from the same proto-form and possibly represent different stages in the grammaticalization cycle.

²*Ko* is a multifunctional subordinator stemming from Spanish *como* 'since' and Spanish *que* 'that'. It is used frequently in narratives and conversations as follows: as a relative pronoun 'that' (the same as Spanish *que*), as a subordinating complementizer 'that' (the same as Spanish *que*), as a subordinating conjunction for adverbial clauses (temporal 'when'; reason 'because, since'; condition 'if'; purpose 'so that'), and as an interrogative adverb 'how, why'.

Wichmann (1995: 573) reconstructs a proto-Mixean particle **ka:h* for “no” and a proto-Oaxaca-Mixean particle **kah* with loss of vowel length. It could be speculated that an emphatic form of the negative marker (i.e. *ka’ap*) was used in addition to the original negator and then started to take over (see Van Gelderen 2016). It is also possible that *ka’ap* is the result of univerbation or cliticizing of the original negator *ka’-* with an adverbial that triggers dependent marking, since *ka’ap* prompts the dependent paradigm while *ka’-* does not. Now the new negator (*ka’ap*) is taking over, and the old negator (*ka’-*) is used mostly in sentences with constituent negation (see §3.2).

The prefix *ka’-* can also be identified in constructions with *nēm* “still” yielding a “not yet” translation, as in (12b), most likely as a lexicalized form.

- (12) a. *tëēs* *nkay*.
 tëe=ēs *n-kay-y*
 before.now=1.EMPH 1S.DEP-eat-ASP.DEP
 ‘I have already eaten.’
 b. *ka’anēmēs* *nkay*.
 ka’a=nēm=ēs *n-kay-y*
 NEG-still-1.EMPH 1S.DEP-eat-ASP.DEP
 ‘I haven’t eaten yet.’

Similar forms are common in Mixean languages. In fact, Wichmann (1995: 342) proposes a proto-Oaxaca Mixean form **ka’h-nām* for “not yet”.

In fast-paced speech, the negative particle *ka’ap* can surface as *ka’a*, occasionally turning into a proclitic *ka’=*, as in (13).

- (13) a. *mijts ka’mnëëkx*.
 mijts ka’=m-nëëkx
 2SG NEG=2S-go.DEP
 ‘You didn’t go.’
 b. *mijts ka’mkay*.
 mijts ka’=m-kay-y
 2SG NEG=2S-eat-ASP.DEP
 ‘You don’t eat.’

The ordering of morphemes in the predicate is different in (13) from the previous examples. While the person marker occupies the first slot in the verb template, as in (10) and (11), in (13a) and (13b), the negative marker *ka’=* takes that

position, thus clearly distinguishing itself from the prefix. The proclitic seems to be an innovation.

A native speaker confirmed in elicitation sessions that the verb may carry the negative prefix *ka'* - instead of or in addition to the negative particle *ka'ap*, as in (14). Having both markers present as negative concord (Hoekesema 2016) or double negation (Dryer 2005) is therefore grammatical, although it does not occur very often in the data. However, negative concord is the norm with constituent negation (see §3.2).

- (14) niimääjtsk tää ka'ap yë'ë tka'atsu'tsnëte
 nii-määjtsk tää ka'ap yë'ë t-ka'-atsu'tsn-ë-të
 AN-two then NEG DEM 3A.DEP-NEG-eat-INV-PL
 '[...] then he didn't eat the two [...]'

While there do not seem to be any restrictions in the use of the negative particle *ka'ap*, Romero-Méndez (2009: 453) discusses constraints to the use of the negative prefix *ka'* - in Ayutla Mixe. He shows that its use as a sole negator is restricted to clauses where only the subject is overtly expressed, as opposed to the subject and an object. The same holds true for Chuxnabán Mixe, as shown in (15). The negative prefix *ka'* - can be an additional negator to the negative particle *ka'ap* in clauses where subject and object are overtly expressed (15a), but it is ungrammatical as the sole negator in such clauses (15c). The negative particle *ka'ap*, however, can still be used as the sole negator (15b).

- (15) a. Juank ka'ap ja kääky tka'kay.
 Juank ka'ap ja kääky t-ka'-kay
 Juan NEG DEM tortilla 3A.DEP-NEG-eat.DEP
 'Juan doesn't eat tortilla.'
- b. Juank ka'ap ja kääky tkay.
 Juank ka'ap ja kääky t-kay
 Juan NEG DEM tortilla 3A.DEP-eat.DEP
 'Juan doesn't eat tortilla.'
- c. *Juank ja kääky tka'kay.
 Juank ja kääky t-ka'-kay
 Juan DEM tortilla 3A.DEP-NEG-eat.DEP
 'Juan doesn't eat tortilla.'

Romero-Méndez (2009: 453) states that the same restriction applies to locative phrases in clauses with motion verbs, thus extending this limitation to non-core

arguments and adjuncts. A similar restriction does not apply in Chuxnabán Mixe. In (16) the single negator can be either the negative particle *ka'ap* or the verbal prefix *ka'*.

- (16) a. *yě'ě ka'něēkxp* *kyamoch.*
 yě'ě ø-ka'-něēkx-p *y-kam-och*
 DEM 3S.IND-NEG-go-ASP.IND 3POSS-field-LOC
 'He is not going to his field.'
- b. *yě'ě ka'ap nyiikx* *kyamoch.*
 yě'ě ka'ap y-niikx-y *y-kam-och*
 DEM NEG 3S.DEP-go-ASP.DEP 3POSS-field-LOC
 'He is not going to his field.'

Other occurrence or co-occurrence restrictions have not been identified for standard negation. The presence of the negative particle, but not the negative prefix, triggers dependent inflection on the predicate. As a result, the structure of the negative clause differs from the affirmative in these instances (cf. asymmetric negation following Miestamo 2005, 2007). However, if the negative prefix *ka'* acts as the sole negator, the structure stays the same (cf. symmetric negation following Miestamo 2005, 2007).

2.1.1 Constructional and paradigmatic asymmetries

Following Miestamo (2005, 2007, 2009, 2014, 2017), negative constructions can be categorized into symmetric and asymmetric negation by examining the structural differences between negative and corresponding affirmative clauses. Chuxnabán Mixe generally belongs to the category of languages with partial asymmetric negation, given that the most frequent negative marker *ka'ap* is not simply added to a corresponding positive clause. There can be several accompanying constructional differences, i.e. different sets of verbal affixes related to the dependent paradigms. As with other Mixean languages (see Romero-Méndez 2009), in Chuxnabán Mixe predicates in a clause are treated as either independent or dependent, each with its own set of inflectional person indexes, verb stems, and aspectual/mood suffixes. However, dependent paradigms do not specifically relate to negation. Dependency is triggered if a non-core constituent, such as an adverb, a temporal or locative particle, or the negative particle *ka'ap*, precedes the predicate. The distinction between dependent and independent constructions with the negator *ka'ap* is shown in (17).

- (17) a. Independent
 maatsyüüjchpy.
m-yaa-tsyüüjch-**py**
 2A.IND-CAUS-hurt-ASP.IND
 ‘You hurt him.’
- b. Dependent
 ka’ap xyaatsyüch.
ka’ap x-yaa-tsyüts-y
 NEG 2A.DEP-CAUS-hurt-ASP.DEP
 ‘You don’t hurt him.’

But a temporal particle preceding the predicate, for instance, also triggers dependent marking in an affirmative clause. Therefore, if we negate such an affirmative clause, we find symmetry between the affirmative and the negative, as in (18).

- (18) a. Dependent
 oojts tiij tuny.
 oojts tiij t-tun-y
 PST something 3A.DEP-do-ASP.DEP
 ‘He did something.’
- b. Dependent
 ka’ap oojts tiij tuny.
ka’ap oojts tiij t-tun-y
 NEG PST something 3A.DEP-do-ASP.DEP
 ‘He didn’t do anything.’

In clauses with the negative prefix *ka’-* as the sole negator, dependent marking does not occur (unless it is prompted by some other element), given that the prefix is part of the predicate and thus not a separate constituent preceding the predicate, as in (19) and (20).

- (19) pën kyamëëmëto’opy ja myaestrë?
 pën **y-ka’**-yaa-mëëmëto’o-**py** ja y-maestrë
 who 3A.IND-NEG-CAUS-obey-ASP.IND DEM 3POSS-teacher
 ‘Who doesn’t obey his/her teacher?’
- (20) yë’ë ka’nëëkxp kyamoch.
 yë’ë **ø-ka’**-nëëkx-**p** y-kam-och
 DEM 3s.IND-NEG-go-ASP.IND 3POSS-field-LOC
 ‘He is not going to his field.’

In addition to a special set of person prefixes and aspect/mood suffixes, predicates show stem variations in dependent and independent inflections, as in (16). Since the predicates in negative clauses are most often inflected as dependent, negative clauses exhibit the following derived asymmetries to corresponding affirmative clauses that are inflected as independent:

Properties of negative clauses in dependent inflection

- Separate set of person prefixes (dependent person prefixes)
- Separate set of aspect/mood suffixes (for neutral, completive, and irrealis)
- Different verb stem

Given that these properties are associated with dependent marking and not specifically with negation, they are derived asymmetries and not considered asymmetries of the subtype A/Cat (Miestamo 2013a) that involve changes in the marking of tense, aspect, mood, person, or any (other) verbal categories etc. Rather, there is partial asymmetry in standard negation, depending on all constituents in a clause.

In addition to constructional asymmetries, a language may also display paradigmatic asymmetries (Miestamo 2005, 2007, 2009, 2014, 2017) whereby some grammatical categories are not available in negatives. No such restrictions are found for standard negation in Chuxnabán Mixe. Negative clauses can occur with any aspect or tense markers.

2.2 Negation in non-declarative

Negation in non-declarative clauses, such as imperatives and interrogatives, often exhibits special forms not found in standard negation. This section examines prohibitives and negation in interrogatives.

2.2.1 Negative imperatives

In Chuxnabán Mixe, there are multiple ways of expressing prohibitives. Generally, they are formed with a special negative particle *kētii* (or its shortened form *kii*) preceding the negated verb, and the latter may optionally be marked with the irrealis enclitic *=ēch*, as in (23) and (24). This strategy differs from standard negation and thus represents the first type of asymmetry identified. It also differs from affirmative imperatives which are formed by using the bare stem, except in clauses with a first person undergoer. The first person undergoer is marked in both affirmative and negative imperatives as an emphatic enclitic *=ēs*, shown in

(23) and (24). In prohibitives, the predicate also takes person prefixes, while there are no person markers in positive imperatives. Plural marking occurs in both, but in prohibitives it is omitted if the irrealis is present, as in (24). The positive counterparts in the examples below were obtained through elicitation (21a, 22a, 23a, 24a), while the prohibitive examples stem from narratives or conversations (21b, 22b, 23b, 24b).

- (21) a. tsë'ëkë!
tsë'ëkë
be.afraid
'Be afraid!' (sg)
- b. kii mtsë'ëkë!
kii m-tsë'ëkë
NEG.IMP 2S.DEP-be.afraid
'Don't be afraid!' (sg)
- (22) a. tsë'ëkëtë!
tsë'ëkë-të
be.afraid-PL
'Be afraid!' (PL)
- b. këtii mëtsë'ëkëtë!
këtii m-tsë'ëkë-të
NEG.IMP 2S.DEP-be.afraid-PL
'Don't be afraid!' (PL)
- (23) a. tukpaat mtëts!
tukpaat m-tëts
touch 2POSS-tooth
'Touch me with your tooth!' (sg)
- b. kiis mtëts xukpaatëch!
kii=s m-tëts x-tukpaat=ëch
NEG.IMP=1.EMPH 2POSS-tooth 1P.DEP-touch=IRR
'Don't touch me with your tooth!' (sg)
- (24) a. tukpa'tëtës mtëts!
tukpa'të-të=ës m-tëts
touch-PL=1.EMPH 2POSS-tooth
'Touch me with your tooth!' (pl)

- b. kiis xukpaatëch mtëts!
 kii=s x-tukpaat=**ëch** m-tëts
 NEG.IMP=1.EMPH 1P.DEP-touch=IRR 2POSS-tooth
 ‘Don’t touch me with your tooth!’ (pl)

The special prohibitive negator always occurs clause-initially in the data; however, it is possible to have adverbs such as *cham* ‘now’ or *yaa* ‘here’ preceding it. There is a difference between second person singular prohibitive and second person plural prohibitive; in the latter, a plural suffix *-të* is added, as in (22). In general, the verb takes the same person prefixes as in standard negation and in affirmative declaratives. The pattern follows the independent/dependent distinction outlined in §1.1. Given that in prohibitives there is a negative particle preceding the predicate at all times, the person prefixes on the verb, as well as as the aspect/mood suffixes, always follow dependent inflection. The ambiguity from having the same form for the person indexes for 2A and 1P in the dependent set (i.e. *x-*) is settled by having an obligatory first person undergoer enclitic, if applicable, as in (25). While the first-person enclitic is used optionally for emphasis in other types of clauses, it is obligatory in prohibitives.

- (25) a. kētiis xkyöx!
 kētii=s x-kyöx
 NEG.IMP=1 1P-hit
 ‘Don’t hit me!’
 b. kētii xkyöx!
 kētii x-kyöx
 NEG.IMP 2A-hit
 ‘Don’t hit him!’

As mentioned above, the irrealis enclitic *=ëch* is optional in these prohibitive constructions, as in (26a) and (27a). The presence of the irrealis is accompanied by a change in the verb stem.

- (26) a. kētiis xkyoxëch!
 kētii=s x-kyox=**ëch**
 NEG.IMP=1 1P.DEP-hit=IRR
 ‘Don’t hit me!’
 b. kētiis xkyöx!
 kētii=s x-kyöx
 NEG.IMP=1 1P.DEP-hit
 ‘Don’t hit me!’

- (27) a. *kētii mkë'ë xpyujëch!*
kētii m-kë'ë x-pyuj=ëch
 NEG.IMP 2POSS-hand 2A.DEF-wash=IRR
 'Don't wash your hands!'
- b. *kētii mkë'ë xpyüüj!*
kētii m-kë'ë x-pyüüj
 NEG.IMP 2POSS-hand 2A.DEF-wash
 'Don't wash your hands!'

In some clauses with other negative particles, such as *niika'ana* 'never' or *nii-maa* 'nowhere', the prohibitive particle *kētii* cannot be used. This occurs because no other negative particle can precede the prohibitive *kētii*, but it can follow it, as in (29a) and (29b). The prohibitive particle can also be omitted, but in these cases the negative prefix *ka'* is obligatorily added to the predicate, as well as the irrealis =*ëch*, as in (28a). The irrealis then is the only marker signaling a prohibitive meaning, as in (30a). The irrealis is never used in positive imperatives.

- (28) a. *niika'na'as xkya'mëkaajpxëch!*
niika'na'a=s x-ka'-mëkaajpx=ëch
never=1 1P.DEF-NEG-talk=IRR
 'Never talk to me!'
- b. * *niika'na'as kii/kētii xkya'mëkaajpxëch!*
niika'na'a=s kii/kētii x-ka'-mëkaajpx=ëch
never=1 NEG.IMP 1P.DEF-NEG-talk=IRR
 'Never talk to me!'
- (29) a. *kiis xkyoxëch niika'na'a!*
kii=s x-kyox=ëch niika'na'a
NEG.IMP=1 1P.DEF-hit=IRR never
 'Never hit me!'
- b. *kiis niika'na'a xkyoxëch!*
kii=s niika'na'a x-kyox=ëch
NEG.IMP=1 never 1P.DEF-hit=IRR
 'Never hit me!'
- c. * *niika'na'a kiis xkyoxëch!*
niika'na'a kii=s x-kyox=ëch
never NEG.IMP=1 1P.DEF-hit=IRR
 'Never hit me!'

- (30) a. *niimaa mka'në'ëkxëch!*
 niimaa m-ka'-në'ëkx=**ëch**
 nowhere 2S-NEG-go=IRR
 'Don't go anywhere!'
- b. *niimaa mka'nëëkx.*
 niimaa m-ka'-nëëkx
 nowhere 2S-NEG-go
 'You are not going anywhere.'

A single negative particle cannot be used for multiple prohibitives; rather, each verb must be negated separately, as in (31).

- (31) a. *kii mtsë'ëkëtë!* *kii maychë mtaajtë!*
 kii m-tsë'ëkë-të **kii** maychë m-taaj-të
 NEG.IMP 2S.DEP-be.afraid-PL NEG.IMP much 2S.DEP-think-PL
 'Don't be afraid! Don't worry (too) much!' (pl)
- b. *kiis mtëts xchukpaatëch!* *kiis*
 kii=s m-tëts x-chukpaat=**ëch** **kii=s**
 NEG.IMP=1 2POSS-tooth 1P.DEP-touch=IRR NEG.IMP=1
 xpyü'ookëch!
 x-pyü'ook=**ëch**
 2A.DEP-chew=IRR
 '[Swallow me entirely!] Don't touch me with your tooth! Don't chew me!'

Following *van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev)*'s (2013) distinction of four types of languages with regard to the marking of prohibitives, Chuxnabán Mixe falls under Types III and IV, which include prohibitives with a verbal construction different from the second person singular imperative and a negation strategy identical (Type III) or different (Type IV) from standard negation. Based on *Miestamo & van der Auwera (2007)*, various asymmetries can be identified in Chuxnabán Mixe prohibitive constructions. Asymmetries referring to differences in negation strategies between declaratives and imperatives include the special prohibitive *kii/këtii* and the irrealis =*ëch*, the latter being obligatory only in clauses without the prohibitive particle *kii/këtii*. The second type of asymmetry comprises differences in the verbal constructions used in positive and negative imperatives. Positive imperatives are formed by using the bare verb stem. The only marking the predicate can take in these constructions is the plural suffix

and the first-person enclitic, while prohibitives take person and aspect markers following the same patterns as declaratives, in addition to the obligatory first person undergoer enclitic. To complicate matters further, Chuxnabán Mixe allows another strategy to form prohibitives, like the negation strategy used in declaratives. In addition to constructions with *kii/kětii*, prohibitives can be formed using the negator *ka'ap* and the irrealis =*ëch*, as in (32a) and (33a). In these instances, the irrealis is obligatory.

- (32) a. *ka'ap mintëch!*
 ka'ap m-min-të=**ëch**
 NEG 2S.DEP-come-PL=IRR
 'Don't come!'
- b. *kětii mintëch!*
 kětii m-min-të(=**ëch**)
 NEG.IMP 2S.DEP-come-PL(=IRR)
 'Don't come!'
- c. *ka'ap mintë.*
 ka'ap m-min-të
 NEG 2S.DEP-come-PL
 'They are not coming.'
- (33) a. *ka'apës xchë'ëkëch!*
 ka'ap=ës x-chë'ëk=**ëch**
 NEG=1.EMPH 1P.DEP-afraid=IRR
 'Don't be afraid of me!'
- b. *kėtiis xchë'ëkëch!*
 kětii=s x-chë'ëk(=**ëch**)
 NEG.IMP=1 1P.DEP-afraid(=IRR)
 'Don't be afraid of me!'
- c. *ka'apës xchë'ëkë.*
 ka'ap=ës x-chë'ëkë
 NEG=1.EMPH 1P.DEP-afraid
 'You are not afraid of me.'

(32) and (33) illustrate the two strategies used in prohibitives, as well as the structural difference between prohibitives with *kětii* in (32b) and (33b), prohibitives with *ka'ap* in (32a) and (33a), and standard negation with *ka'ap* in (32c) and

Table 4: Summary of imperative and prohibitive strategies

	Bare stem	Person prefix	first person undergoer	<i>kētii</i>	<i>ka'ap</i>	Other negator (e.g. 'never')	<i>ka'</i> -	IRR	SG/PL ø/-tē
Imperative	x		x						x
Prohibitive		x	x	x		(x)		(x)	(x)
Prohibitive		x	x			x	x	x	
Prohibitive		x	x	x		x		(x)	(x)
Prohibitive		x	x		x			x	

(33c). Table 4 summarizes the strategies used for imperatives and prohibitives in Chuxnabán Mixe.

While the strategy used to form positive imperatives is very similar to the one found in the closely related Ayutla Mixe, the strategies used to form prohibitives are very distinct. Ayutla Mixe exhibits no special negation strategy for prohibitives (Romero-Méndez 2009: 307). In fact, the same negative particle as in standard negation is used with an irrealis marker, like the strategy with *ka'ap* in Chuxnabán Mixe. In the related Sierra Popoluca, there is a special negator for prohibitives and optatives (Boudreault 2018). The prohibitive particle in Chuxnabán Mixe appears also in other constructions, such as negative polar questions and tag questions, discussed in §2.2.2, and in clauses with 'neither', covered in §4.5.

2.2.2 Questions and answers

This section covers only polar questions. Negative interrogatives are formed using one of two different strategies. In naturally occurring data, the negative particle *ka'ap* is used most often, the same as in standard negation and the negative existential, as in (34a). It is also possible to have the negative prefix *ka'*-, as in standard negation (35).

- (34) a. *ka'apap pēnē?*
 ka'ap *jap* *pēn-ē*
 NEG there someone-Q
 'Isn't s/he here?'
 b. *ka'ap jap pēn.*
 NEG there someone
 'Nobody is here.' = 'There isn't anyone.'

c. täp jä'ä.

EX DEM

'Yes, s/he is here.'

(35) jump tii xkya'oyjaawë?

jump tii x-ka'-yaa'-oyjaaw-ë

there what 2A.DEP-NEG-CAUS-feel.good-Q

'Is there anything that doesn't make you feel good?'

Another strategy in negative polar questions is to use *kii/këtii*, the same particle found in prohibitives. As with prohibitives, *kii* is the shortened form of *këtii*, and the two can be used interchangeably. The only difference between a standard negation and the negative interrogative is the choice of the respective particle, as can be seen comparing (36c) and (36d). There is no formal distinction between the prohibitive and the negative interrogative, as in (36d).

(36) a. këtii iich miny?

këtii iich m-miny-y

NEG PST 2S.DEP-come-ASP.DEP

'You didn't come?'

b. këtii miny?

këtii m-miny-y

NEG 2S.DEP-come-ASP.DEP

'You are not coming?'

c. ka'ap miny.

ka'ap m-miny-y

NEG 2S.DEP-come-ASP.DEP

'You are not coming.'

d. kii miny!

kii m-miny-y

NEG 2S.DEP-come-ASP.DEP

'Don't come!' = 'You are not coming?'

The same construction occurs in non-verbal negative interrogatives and in negative existential questions, as in (37–39).

(37) a. kii iich ja tēējk chapsēch?

kii iich ja tēējk y-tsaps=ēch

NEG PST DEM house 3S.DEP-red=IRR

'Wasn't the house red?'

- b. tsaps iich ja tēējkē?
 ø-tsaps iich ja tēējk-ē
 3s.IND-red PST DEM house-Q
 ‘Was the house red?’

- (38) kii tii?
 kii tii
 NEG what
 ‘Isn’t there anything?’

- (39) kii jap pën?
 kii jap pën
 NEG there someone
 ‘Isn’t s/he (here)?’

In addition, the same negative particle is used in tag questions. The tag question is added to a statement to request a confirmation or disconfirmation of the statement made. In many languages tag questions can consist of a positive or a negative. In Chuxnabán Mixe it is the negative (40, 41).

- (40) xiipē camepsinē i’ta’any, kētiijē pa’ch?
 xiipē camepsinē i’ta’any kētii=jē’ē pa’ch
 this.one farmer will.be NEG=DEM buddy
 ‘This one (Salvador) will be a farmer, right buddy?’

- (41) jā’ā ko tēē niiwimpi’tē, kētii?
 jā’ā ko tēē y-niiwimpi’tē kētii
 DEM because before.now 3s.DEP-repeat NEG
 ‘Because he repeated (the school year), right?’

In tag questions, the negative particle always appears clause-finally, unlike in negative interrogatives and prohibitives. As a result, it can be easily distinguished from its other uses.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

This section examines negation strategies in non-verbal clauses, including the following clause types: equation, proper inclusion, attribution, locative predication, possessive predication, and existential predication, following [Payne \(1997\)](#):

111–128) and Veselinova (2014). There are several different strategies in Chuxnabán Mixe to form these types of clauses in the affirmative and the negative, including juxtaposition, a verbalizer copula, and an existential copula. For some of the clause types, there are multiple negation strategies. Negation strategies in equation and attribution overlap, as well as in locative and existential predication.

2.3.1 Equative predication (predicate nominals)

Equative constructions refer to sentences where two entities are equated with each other. In Chuxnabán Mixe equative predication the subject and the non-verbal predicate are juxtaposed with no copula present. In the negative, the negative particle *ka'ap* is added before the non-verbal predicate, and the non-verbal constituent takes a person marker and the irrealis enclitic *=ëch*, as in (42–44). This is the equivalent of the A/NonReal asymmetry identified by Miestamo (2013b: 296–297) for standard negation, but in non-standard negation here.

- (42) a. *yë'ë to'oxychëëjk yë'ë maestrë.*
 yë'ë to'oxychëëjk yë'ë maestrë
 DEM woman DEM teacher
 'This woman is the teacher.'
- b. *yë'ë to'oxychëëjk ka'ap yë'ëch maestrë.*
 yë'ë to'oxychëëjk ka'ap y-yë'ë=ëch maestrë
 DEM woman NEG 3S.DEP-DEM=IRR teacher
 'This woman is not the teacher.'
- (43) a. *ëëjts mëëtëkëëk.*
 ëëjts mëëtëkëëk
 1SG third
 'I am the third one.'
- b. *ka'apës ëëjts nmëëtëkëëkëch.*
 ka'ap=ës ëëjts n-mëëtëkëëk=ëch
 NEG=1.EMPH 1SG 1S.DEP-third=IRR
 'I am not the third one.'
- (44) a. *chaapë may jyä'äxë'ë.*
 chaapë may jyä'äxë'ë
 this much wood
 'This is a lot of wood.'

- b. chaapë ka'ap myäy jyä'äxëch.
 chaapë **ka'ap** y-may jyä'äx=**ëch**
 this NEG 3S.DEP-much wood=IRR
 'This is not a lot of wood.'

The person marker is always prefixed to the first constituent of the noun phrase or adjectival phrase that functions as the predicate, while the irrealis enclitic can be attached to either constituent. Although the word order in these clauses cannot be changed, the two constituents in equation can generally be switched. This negation strategy is like the one found in Ayutla Mixe in clauses with adjectival or nominal predicates (Romero-Méndez 2009: 408). Romero-Méndez (2009: 418) states, however, that negative equative sentences in Ayutla Mixe differ from other types of non-verbal predication in that there is no person marker and the predicate takes the suffix *-ëp*. He clarifies that only sentences in which there are two referential full noun phrases behave like that. This special negation strategy has not been identified in Chuxnabán Mixe.

However, there is a second type of construction in equative clauses, seen in (45–47). It involves a verbalizer attached to the predicate in both the negative and the corresponding affirmative clause. The verbalizer has different shapes in the affirmative and the negative, and it takes aspect suffixes and the plural suffix. The verbalized predicate is inflected for person.

- (45) a. yë'ës ntaajk'aajchpy.
 yë'ë=s n-taajk-'aajch-p
 DEM=1.EMPH 1POSS-mother-VBZ-ASP.IND
 'She is my mother.'
- b. ka'apës yë'ë ntaajk'achy.
ka'ap=ës yë'ë **n-n**-taajk-'**ach**-y
 NEG=1.EMPH DEM 1A.DEP-1POSS-mother-VBZ-ASP.DEP
 'She is not my mother.'
- (46) a. chääpë yë'ë ntëëjk'aa'täämpy.
 chääpë yë'ë n-tëëjk-'aa'tääm-p
 this DEM 1POSS-house-VBZ-ASP.IND
 'This is going to be my house.'
- b. chääpë ka'ap yë'ë xchëëjk'aa'ta'antë.
 chääpë **ka'ap** yë'ë **x-y**-tëëjk-'aa'ta'antë
 this NEG DEM 1P.DEP-1POSS-house-VBZ
 'This is not going to be my house.'

- (47) a. chääpëch yë'ë chuump'aajtëp.
chääpëch yë'ë y-tuump-'aajt-të-p
these DEM 3POSS-worker-VBZ-PL-ASP.IND
'These are his workers.'
- b. chääpëch ka'ap yë'ë tuump'a'të.
chääpëch ka'ap yë'ë t-tuump-'a't-të
these NEG DEM 3A.DEP-worker-VBZ-PL
'These are not his workers.'

It must be noted that all the equated clauses in (45–47) contain a demonstrative and a possessed element. The verbalizer takes different shapes in the present, past, and future tense, as well as in the affirmative and the negative, possibly related to verbal stem apophony, as with lexical verbs. The forms are shown in Table 5.

Table 5: Summary of verbalizer forms in equative clauses

	Affirmative SG	Affirmative PL	Negative SG	Negative PL
Present/Past	-’aajch	-’aajt	-’ach	-’a’t
Future	-’aa’täämp		-’aa’ta’antë	

The verbalized forms can take plural and aspect marking in both the affirmative and the negative. Negative constructions include the negative particle *ka’ap* and the person prefixes from the dependent set on the verbalized element. Both negation strategies used in equative clauses are also found in attributive clauses with adjectival predicates.

2.3.2 Attribution (adjectival predicates)

Attribution refers to clauses with an adjectival predicate where the predicate represents a stable quality or a temporary state (Hengeveld 1992). Following Payne (1997: 120), attributive clauses usually exhibit identical or similar structures to that of predicate nominal clauses. This is also true for Chuxnabán Mixe. The same two negation strategies presented in the previous section occur in these types of clauses (48–51).

- (48) a. yě'ë 'uk awa'an.
 yě'ë 'uk awa'an
 DEM dog wild
 'The dog is wild.'
- b. 'uk ka'ap y'awa'anëch.
 'uk **ka'ap** y-'awa'an=**ëch**
 dog NEG 3S.DEP-wild=IRR
 'The dog is not wild.'
- (49) a. Juank yě'ë iich wij.
 Juank yě'ë iich wij
 Juank DEM PST intelligent
 'Juan was intelligent.'
- b. Juank ka'ap iich wyijëch.
 Juank **ka'ap** iich y-wij=**ëch**
 Juank NEG PST 3S.DEP-intelligent=IRR
 'Juan was not intelligent.'
- (50) a. pejyës ëëjts.
 pejy=ës ëëjts
 skinny=1.EMPH 1SG
 'I am skinny.'
- b. ka'apës (ëëjts) npejëch.
 ka'ap=ës (ëëjts) **n-pej**=**ëch**
 NEG=1.EMPH (1SG) 1S.DEP-skinny=IRR
 'I am not skinny.'
- (51) a. Juank wij i'tä'äny.
 Juank wij i'tä'äny
 Juank intelligent FUT
 'Juan is going to be intelligent.'
- b. Juank ka'ap wij i'tä'äny.
 Juank **ka'ap** wij **i'tä'äny**
 Juank NEG intelligent FUT
 'Juan is not going to be intelligent.'

Like equative clauses, attributive clauses can be formed with a verbalizer. The future tense, however, exhibits a slightly different structure: clauses include a future marker *i'tä'äny* in both the affirmative and the negative. The only difference

in the negative is the presence of the negative particle *ka'ap*. The latter strategy parallels the one in existentials.

2.3.3 Proper inclusion (predicate nominals)

Proper inclusion refers to clauses with a nominal predicate where the predicate is included in a certain class (Veselinova 2013). More specifically, these are clauses in which 'a specific entity is asserted to be among the class of items specified in the nominal predicate' (Payne 1997: 114). The negation strategy used in these types of clauses includes the negative particle preceding the predicate, in addition to the predicate taking person prefixes from the dependent set. The verbalized predicate further takes tense and aspect suffixes in the affirmative and the negative, following the sets for the independent and dependent inflection. This negation strategy is identical to the one in equative and attributive clauses except for the absence of the irrealis =*ëch* (52–54).

- (52) a. Juank yë'ë (tu'uk) mëëtuum-pë.
Juank yë'ë (tu'uk) mëëtuum-pë
Juank DEM (one) worker-VBZ
'Juan is a worker.'
- b. Juank ka'ap yë'ë myëëtuny.
Juank ka'ap yë'ë y-mëëtun-y
Juank NEG DEM 3s.DEP-worker-ASP.DEP
'Juan is not a worker.'
- (53) a. Juank mëëtuump iich.
Juank mëëtuum-pë iich
Juank worker-VBZ PST
'Juan was a worker.'
- b. Juank ka'ap iich myëëtuny.
Juank ka'ap iich y-mëëtun-y
Juank NEG PST 3s.DEP-worker-ASP.DEP
'Juan was not a worker.'
- (54) a. Juank yë'ë mëëtun'aamp.
Juank yë'ë mëëtun-'aamp
Juank DEM worker-FUT.IND
'Juan is going to be a worker.'

- b. Juank ka'ap myëëtun'a'any.
 Juank ka'ap y-mëëtun-'a'any
 Juank NEG 3S.DEP-worker-FUT.DEP
 'Juan is not going to be a worker.'

So far, I have described negation in ascriptive clauses. Veselinova (2013) states that the negation strategies used in ascriptive and existential predication may overlap. The following section examines negation in existential predication.

2.3.4 Existential predication

Existential clauses state the plain existence of an object, and negative existentials often display nonstandard strategies for negation. In Chuxnabán Mixe, negative existentials are formed using the negative existential *ka'ap*, which is the negative particle used in standard negation. In the affirmative, existential clauses are formed with the existential *täp* in the present and past tense, as in (55–57). Adding a location to the clause does not change this structure, as in (56). In the negative, the negative existential *ka'ap* replaces the positive existential (see Veselinova 2013, 2016) and a pronoun *tii* 'what, something' is added, except in the future. The pronoun cannot be omitted in the present and past tense. The future exhibits a different existential: *i'taamp/i'tantëp* for singular and plural, respectively, and the negative existential *ka'ap* is also formed differently in that it does not simply substitute the positive existential but rather appears in addition to a form of the future existential, as in (58) and (59).

- (55) a. *täp kwee.*
 täp kwee
 EX coffee
 'There's coffee.'
- b. *ka'ap tii kwee.*
 ka'ap tii kwee
 NEG what coffee
 'There isn't any coffee.'
- (56) a. *täp kwee kamoch.*
 täp kwee kam-och
 EX coffee field-LOC
 'There's coffee in the field.'

- b. ka'ap tii kwee kamoch.
ka'ap tii kwee kam-och
 NEG what coffee field-LOC
 'There isn't any coffee in the field.'
- (57) a. täp iich kwee.
 täp iich kwee
 EX PST coffee
 'There was coffee.'
- b. ka'ap iich tii kwee.
ka'ap iich tii kwee
 NEG PST what coffee
 'There wasn't any coffee.'
- (58) a. i'taamp kwee.
 i'taamp kwee
 EX.FUT coffee
 'There will be coffee.'
- b. ka'ap i'ta'any kwee.
ka'ap i'ta'any kwee
 NEG EX.FUT coffee
 'There won't be any coffee.'
- (59) a. i'tantëp may tuumpëch.
 i'tantëp may tuump-ëch
 EX.FUT.PL lots worker-PL
 'There will be lots of workers.'
- b. ka'ap i'ta'antë may tuumpëch.
ka'ap i'ta'antë may tuump-ëch
 NEG EX.FUT.PL lots worker-PL
 'There won't be lots of workers.'

Following [Croft \(1991\)](#) who identifies three types of languages based on the relationship between the verbal negator and the negative existential, Chuxnabán Mixe fits best into type C, as the negative existential has taken over verbal negation, but the negative constructions used for verbal and for existential predications are completely different. Table 6 summarizes the existential constructions.

Existential and negative existential clauses can also be formed in the same way as ascriptive clauses with a verbalizer, as in (61). Moreover, there is a third

Table 6: Affirmative and negative existentials

	Affirmative	Negative
Present	<i>tāp</i> (+ location)	<i>ka'ap tii</i> (+ location)
Past	<i>tāp iich</i> (+ location)	<i>ka'ap iich tii</i> (+ location)
Future	<i>i'taamp</i> (+ location) (SG)	<i>ka'ap i'ta'any</i> (+ location) (SG)
	<i>i'tantēp</i> (+ location) (PL)	<i>ka'ap i'ta'antē</i> (+ location) (PL)

strategy involving an invariant verbalizing suffix *-pē* in both the affirmative and the negative, as in (60).

- (60) a. *tāā nentu'un to'oxychēējkēch mē'kēchpyē.*
tāā nentu'un to'oxychēējk-ēch mē'k-ēch-pē
 EX like.that women-PL strong-PL-VBZ
 'Like that, strong women exist.'
- b. *ka'ap nentu'un to'oxychēējkēch mē'kēchpyē.*
ka'ap nentu'un to'oxychēējk-ēch mē'k-ēch-pē
 NEG like.that women-PL strong-PL-VBZ
 'Like that, strong women don't exist.'
- (61) a. *tāā nentu'un to'oxychēējkēch nti'ipē mēk'aajtēpēn.*
tāā nentu'un to'oxychēējk-ēch nti'ipē mēk-'aajt-tē-pē-n
 EX like.that women-PL which strong-VBZ-PL-VBZ-ASP
 'Like that, strong women exist.'
- b. *ka'ap nentu'un to'oxychēējkēch myēk'a'tē.*
ka'ap nentu'un to'oxychēējkēch y-mēk-'a't-tē
 NEG like.that women-PL 3S.DEP-strong-VBZ-PL
 'Like that, strong women don't exist.'
- (62) a. *ka'ap (tii) kwee pa'akpē.*
ka'ap (tii) kwee pa'ak-pē
 NEG what coffee sweet-VBZ
 'Sweet coffee doesn't exist.'
- b. *≠ ka'ap kwee pya'akēch.*
ka'ap kwee y-pa'ak-ēch
 NEG coffee 3S.DEP-sweet-PL
 'The coffee isn't sweet.'

- (63) a. *tää iich kwee pa'akpë.*
tää iich kwee pa'ak-pë
 EX PST coffee sweet-VBZ
 'Sweet coffee existed.'
- b. *ka'ap iich (tii) kwee pa'akpë.*
ka'ap iich (tii) kwee pa'ak-pë
 NEG PST **what** coffee sweet-VBZ
 'Sweet coffee didn't exist.'
- (64) a. *i'täämp kwee pa'akpë.*
i'täämp kwee pa'ak-pë
 EX.FUT coffee sweet-VBZ
 'Sweet coffee will exist.'
- b. *ka'ap i'ta'any kwee pa'akpë.*
ka'ap i'ta'any kwee pa'ak-pë
 NEG EX.FUT coffee sweet-VBZ
 'Sweet coffee will not exist.'

As can be seen in (60) and (63), in clauses with the verbalizer *-pë* the negative existential is formed with the negative existential *ka'ap* replacing the positive existential *tää* in the present and past. In the future, the existential changes from *i'täämp* to *i'ta'any* in the negative, as in (64).

A yet different construction is consistently translated as a negative existential, although its literal meaning is 'little, hardly any'. While this would not be considered a true existential construction, it is worth noting.

- (65) *amaay meeny amaay tiija'ch.*
amaay meeny amaay tii'-a'ch
little money little something-VBZ
 'There was no money, there was nothing.'
- (66) a. *may tiija'ch.*
may tii'-a'ch
lot something-VBZ
 'There was something.'
- b. *amaay tiija'ch.*
amaay tii'-a'ch
little something-VBZ
 'There was nothing.'

In (65) and (66), the adjective *amaay* ‘little’ is translated as a negative existential. It can occur with the pronoun *tii* ‘what, something’, like the negative existential *ka’ap*. What is interesting is that the verbalizer *-a’ch* in constructions with *amaay* has the same shape in both the affirmative and the negative, as in (66), unlike the verbalizer in ascriptive negatives. Further worth mentioning is the pair *may* ‘a lot’ and its antonym *amaay* ‘a little’. It is possible that the initial vowel in *amaay* represents negative derivation. The vowel length of the second vowel in *amaay* could be a parallel development to the stem changes found in predicates.

2.3.5 Locative predication

Locative clauses include structures in which the predicate is a location (Payne 1997: 112). Following Veselinova (2013: 110), locative negation ‘refers to the negation strategy used in sentences with a locative predicate and a definite subject’. These constructions often share features with existentials, but in addition to existence, they specify the location, as is the case in Chuxnabán Mixe. The affirmative includes the existential *täp/tämp* and a tense marker for the future. In addition, the locative can take optional or obligatory demonstratives or pronouns: *tii* ‘what’, *pën* ‘someone’, or *ma* ‘where’. While the first two are generally optional, the latter is obligatory, as in (69). Moreover, the distal deictic *jap* ‘there’ can be clitized to the negative particle, as in (70). The distal deictic *jap* ‘there’ and the pronouns *pën* ‘someone’ and *tii* ‘what’ can be omitted (67, 68, 71).

- (67) a. *yë’ë tuumpë tämp i’ta’any kamoch.*
 yë’ë tuumpë tämp i’ta’any kam-och
 DEM worker EX FUT field-LOC
 ‘The worker will be in the field.’
 b. *yë’ë tuumpë ka’ap i’ta’any kamoch.*
 yë’ë tuumpë ka’ap i’ta’any kam-och
 DEM worker NEG FUT field-LOC
 ‘The worker won’t be in the field.’
- (68) a. *tämp tuumpëch i’ta’antë kamoch.*
 tämp tuump-ëch i’ta’antë kam-och
 EX worker-PL FUT field-LOC
 ‘The workers will be in the field.’

- b. tuumpëch ka'ap i'ta'antë kamoch.
 tuumpëch **ka'ap i'ta'antë** kam-och
 worker-PL **NEG FUT** field-LOC
 'The workers won't be in the field.'
- (69) a. jä'ä mok täp i'ta'any ma mesën.
 jä'ä mok täp i'ta'any ma mes-ën
 DEM corn EX FUT where table-LOC
 'The corn will be on the table.'
- b. jä'ä mok ka'ap i'ta'any ma mesën.
 jä'ä mok **ka'ap i'ta'any** ma mes-ën
 DEM corn **NEG FUT** where table-LOC
 'The corn won't be on the table.'
- (70) a. yë'ë tuumpe täpjä'ä kamoch.
 yë'ë tuumpe täp=jä'ä kam-och
 DEM worker EX=DEM field-LOC
 'The worker is in the field.'
- b. yë'ë tuumpë ka'apap pën kamoch.
 yë'ë tuumpë **ka'ap=jap pën** kam-och
 DEM worker **NEG=there someone** field-LOC
 'The worker isn't in the field.'
- (71) a. jä'ä mok täp ma mesën.
 jä'ä mok täp ma mes-ën
 DEM corn EX where table-LOC
 'The corn is on the table.'
- b. jä'ä mok ka'apap tii ma mesën.
 jä'ä mok **ka'ap=jap tii ma** mes-ën
 DEM corn **NEG=there what where** table-LOC
 'The corn isn't on the table.'

Overall, negation in locative predications is formed with the existential negator *ka'ap* in addition to optional and obligatory demonstratives, pronouns, and deictics, as summarized in Table 7.

The future tense shows similarities in shape to negative equative clauses (see Table 5 in §2.3.1). In equative clauses, the same marker appears in singular and plural, unlike in locative constructions. Negative locative constructions can also

Table 7: Location in affirmative and negatives

	Affirmative	Negative
Present	<i>tāp (tii) + location</i>	<i>ka'ap jap (tii) (pēn) + location</i>
Past	<i>tāp iich (tii) + location</i>	<i>ka'ap jap iich (tii) (pēn) + location</i>
Future	<i>tāmp i'ta'any + location (SG)</i>	<i>ka'ap i'ta'any + location (SG)</i>
	<i>tāmp i'ta'antē + location (PL)</i>	<i>ka'ap i'ta'antē + location (PL)</i>

be formed in the same way as negative existentials involving the verbalizer -*pē*. The constructions are identical to the respective existential clauses, but in addition to predicating existence there is a location, as in (72).

- (72) a. *tāā nentu'un to'oxychēējkēch mē'kēchpyē ma kaajpnēn.*
tāā nentu'un to'oxychēējk-ēch mē'k-ēch-pē ma kaajpn-ēn
 EX like.that women-PL strong-PL-VBZ where village-LOC
 'Like that, strong women exist in the village.'
- b. *ka'ap nentu'un to'oxychēējkēch mē'kēchpyē ma kaajpnēn.*
ka'ap nentu'un to'oxychēējk-ēch mē'k-ēch-pē ma kaajpn-ēn
 NEG like.that women-PL strong-PL-VBZ where village-LOC
 'Like that, strong women don't exist in the village.'

Veselinova (2013: 123–124) notes that there may be a difference between predicating absolute absence, i.e. non-existence anywhere, and predicating absence in a specific location. In some languages, a negative existential used in locatives negates the existence of an entity overall. This can differ from a construction with a different negator in locatives that negates existence in one location but where existence in another location is possible. No such difference has been noted in Chuxnabán Mixe, as illustrated in (73–76).

- (73) *ka'ap u'k awa'an-pē yaa jāāmyē waakwimp.*
ka'ap u'k awa'an-pē yaa jāāmyē waakwimp
 NEG dog mean-VBZ here only Oaxaca
 'Mean dogs don't exist here, only in Oaxaca.'
- (74) *tāā u'k awa'anpē jāāmyē waakwimp.*
tāā u'k awa'an-pē jāāmyē waakwimp
 EX dog mean-VBZ only Oaxaca
 'Mean dogs exist, but only in Oaxaca.'

- (75) a. *tää iich kwee pa'akpë.*
tää iich kwee pa'ak-pë
 EX PST coffee sweet-VBZ
 'Sweet coffee existed.'
- b. *ka'ap iich tii kwee pa'akpë.*
ka'ap iich tii kwee pa'ak-pë
 NEG PST what coffee sweet-VBZ
 'Sweet coffee didn't exist.'
- c. *ka'ap iich tii kwee pa'akpë cham tää yë'ë.*
ka'ap iich tii kwee pa'ak-pë cham tää yë'ë
 NEG PST what coffee sweet-VBZ now EX DEM
 'Sweet coffee didn't exist, but now it does (exist).'
- (76) *yë'ë u'k ka'apap ma tējējkēn täpjä'ä kamoch.*
yë'ë u'k ka'ap-jap ma tējējk-ēn täp-jä'ä kam-och
 DEM dog NEG-there where house-LOC EX-DEM field-LOC
 'The dog is not in the house, (the dog) is in the field.'

Ascriptive, existential, and locative predications are sometimes grouped together as stative predication (Veselinova 2013: 111). This also includes possessive predications. If the same negator is used in all these predications, it is identified as a 'stative negator'.

2.3.6 Possessive predication

Languages usually employ existential and/or locational structures to express the notion of possession. This also occurs in Chuxnabán Mixe. Possessives are formed either using the existential construction with *tää/tämp* and a person prefix and verbalizer with the preposition *mējēt* 'with' (77, 79a), or just the existential, or just the person prefix and verbalizer with the preposition *mējēt* 'with' (78, 80, 81). If there is an existential present, then the person prefix in the affirmative is from the dependent set, if not, then it belongs to the independent set, unless dependency is triggered otherwise. In the negative, the existential *tää/tämp* is replaced with the negator *ka'ap* and the pronoun *tii* 'what' (79a–79b); and the person prefix is always from the dependent set. As with existential constructions, there is no existential in the future tense, but the verbalizer has a special form, which is different in the affirmative and the negative, *aa'täämpy* and *aa'ta'any* respectively. There is yet another strategy to form possessive constructions. In

the affirmative, the possessed predicate is marked with a possessive prefix (79c), and in the negative the negator *ka'ap* and the pronoun *tii* 'what' are added (79d).

- (77) a. Xwank tämp tmëët'ach tsuujknë.
 Xwank tämp t-mëët-'ach tsuujknë
 Juan EX 3A.DEP-with-VBZ knife
 'Juan has a knife.'
- b. Xwank ka'ap tii tmëët'ächy tsuujknë.
 Xwank **ka'ap tii** t-mëët-'ächy tsuujknë
 Juan NEG what 3A.DEP-with-VBZ knife
 'Juan doesn't have a knife.'
- (78) a. Xwank myëët'aa'täämpy tu'uk tsuujknë.
 Xwank y-mëët-'aa'täämpy tu'uk tsuujknë
 Juan 3A.IND-with-VBZ one knife
 'Juan will have a knife.'
- b. Xwank ka'ap tmëët'aa'ta'any tsuujknë.
 Xwank **ka'ap t-mëët-'aa'ta'any** tsuujknë
 Juan NEG 3A.DEP-with-VBZ knife
 'Juan won't have a knife.'
- (79) a. yë'ë u'k tämp tmëët'ach toojkk.
 yë'ë u'k tämp t-mëët-'ach toojkk
 DEM dog EX 3A.DEP-with-VBZ food
 'The dog has food.'
- b. yë'ë u'k ka'ap tii tmëët'ach toojkk.
 yë'ë u'k **ka'ap tii** t-mëët-'ach toojkk
 DEM dog NEG what 3A.DEP-with-VBZ food
 'The dog doesn't have food.'
- c. yë'ë u'k choojkk.
 yë'ë u'k y-toojkk
 DEM dog 3POSS-food
 'The dog has food.'
- d. yë'ë u'k ka'ap tii choojkk.
 yë'ë u'k **ka'ap tii** y-toojkk
 DEM dog NEG what 3POSS-food
 'The dog doesn't have food.'

- (80) a. yě'ë u'k myëet'aa'täämpy toojcx.
 yě'ë u'k y-mëet-'aa'täämpy toojcx
 DEM dog 3A.DEP-with-VBZ food
 'The dog will have food.'
- b. yě'ë u'k ka'ap tmëet'aa'ta'any toojcx.
 yě'ë u'k ka'ap t-mëet-'aa'ta'any toojcx
 DEM dog NEG 3A.DEP-with-VBZ food
 'The dog won't have food.'
- (81) a. miijs mëet'aachpy meeny.
 miijs m-mëet-'aachpy meeny
 2SG 2A.IND-with-VBZ money
 'You have money.'
- b. miijs ka'ap tii xmyëet'ach meeny.
 miijs ka'ap tii x-mëet-'ach meeny
 2SG NEG what 2A.DEP-with-VBZ money
 'You don't have money.'

There are three strategies for possessives in the affirmative and two in the negative, as shown in Table 8.

Table 8: Affirmative and negative possessive clauses

Tense	Affirmative	Negative
Present Strategy #1	<i>tää/tamp</i> + DEP PERS + VBZ - 'ach w/ <i>mëet</i> 'with'	<i>ka'ap tii</i> + DEP PERS + VBZ - 'ach w/ <i>mëet</i> 'with'
Present Strategy #2	IND PERS + VBZ - 'ach on <i>mëet</i> 'with'	Same as above
Present Strategy #3	POSS on possessed	<i>ka'ap tii</i> + POSS on possessed
Past	Same as above + <i>iich</i>	Same as above + <i>iich</i>
Future	IND PERS + VBZ 'aa'täämpy on <i>mëet</i> 'with'	<i>ka'ap (tii)</i> + DEP PERS + VBZ - 'aa'ta'any on <i>mëet</i> 'with'

Table 9 provides a summary of negation strategies in non-verbal predication. Overall, equative and attributive clauses exhibit the same structure except for the future forms, and both are formed in the same way as clauses of proper inclusion except for the lack of the irrealis enclitic =*ëch*. While existential and locative constructions are identical, possessive clauses seem to use strategies from both, ascriptive and existential clauses. The existential negator *ka'ap* is the only negator used in all non-verbal clauses.

Table 9: Summary of negation strategies in non-verbal clauses

	Affirmative	Negative strategy #1	Negative strategy #2
Equation (nominal predicate)	juxtaposition	<i>ka'ap</i> + person + = <i>ëch</i>	<i>ka'ap</i> + person + VBZ
Attribution (adjectival predicate)	juxtaposition (+ <i>iich</i> in PST) (+ <i>i'tä'äny</i> in FUT)	<i>ka'ap</i> + person + = <i>ëch</i> (+ <i>iich</i> in PST) (+ <i>i'tä'äny</i> in FUT, but no = <i>ëch</i>)	<i>ka'ap</i> + person + VBZ <i>ka'ap</i> (+ <i>i'tä'äny</i> in FUT)
Proper inclusion (nominal predicate)	juxtaposition + - <i>pë</i> (+ <i>iich</i> in PST) (+ -'aamp in FUT, but no - <i>pë</i>)	<i>ka'ap</i> + person (+ <i>iich</i> in PST) (+ -'a'any in FUT)	
Existential #1	<i>täp</i> (+ <i>iich</i> in PST) <i>i'taamp/i'tantëp</i> (SG, PL) in FUT (but no <i>täp</i>)	<i>ka'ap tii</i> (+ <i>iich</i> in PST) (+ <i>i'ta'any</i> / <i>i'ta'antë</i> (SG, PL) in FUT	
Existential #2	(DEM) NML + - <i>pë</i> <i>tää</i> + - <i>pë</i> <i>i'täämp</i> + - <i>pë</i> (FUT)	<i>ka'ap (tii)</i> + - <i>pë</i> <i>ka'ap i'ta'any</i> + - <i>pë</i> (FUT SG) <i>ka'ap i'ta'antë</i> + - <i>pë</i> (FUT PL)	<i>ka'ap</i> + person + VBZ - 'a't/'a'të (SG/PL)
Locative #1 = Existent- tial #1	<i>täp</i> + (<i>tii</i>) + location/ (+ <i>iich</i> in PST) <i>tämp i'ta'any/i'ta'antë</i> + location (FUT SG/PL)	<i>ka'ap jap</i> + (<i>tii/pën</i>) + lo- cation (+ <i>iich</i> in PST) <i>ka'ap i'ta'any/i'ta'antë</i> + location (in FUT SG/PL)	
Locative #2 = Existent- tial #2	(DEM) NML + - <i>pë</i> <i>tää</i> + - <i>pë</i> <i>i'täämp</i> + - <i>pë</i> (FUT)	<i>ka'ap (tii)</i> + - <i>pë</i> <i>ka'ap i'ta'any</i> + - <i>pë</i> (FUT SG) <i>ka'ap i'ta'antë</i> + - <i>pë</i> (FUT PL)	
Possessive #1	<i>tää/tämp</i> + DEP PERS + VBZ - 'ach on <i>mëët</i> 'with' IND PERS + VBZ - 'ach on <i>mëët</i> (+ <i>iich</i> in PST) (VBZ 'aa'täämpy in FUT)	<i>ka'ap tii</i> + DEP PERS + VBZ - 'ach on <i>mëët</i> 'with' (+ <i>iich</i> in PST) (VBZ - 'aa'ta'any in FUT)	
Possessive #2	POSS on possessed (+ <i>iich</i> in PST)	<i>ka'ap tii</i> + POSS on possessed (+ <i>iich</i> in PST)	

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

For the most part, negation in complex and dependent clauses does not exhibit any special negation strategies. The negator *ka'ap* occurs in main and subordinate clauses, which are negated separately. In relative clauses, each clause is negated separately, and both main and subordinate clause can be negated at the same time, as in (82) and (83).

- (82) *ka'ap toxychëëjk piky* [mëti'ipë *ka'ap tukjachën*
ka'ap toxychëëjk piky mëti'ipë *ka'ap t-tukjats-y-ën*
 NEG woman marry the.one NEG 3A.DEP-know-ASP.DEP-DEP
 tuunk].
 tuunk
 work
 'The woman who didn't know how to work could not get married.'
- (83) a. *ëëjtsës* [mëti'ipë *oojts axë'ëy* mëkaajpxpo'kxpyën].
ëëjts=ës mëti'ipë *oojts axë'ëy* m-kaajpxpo'kx-p-ën
 1SG=1.EMPH the.one PST yesterday 2A.IND-greet-ASP.IND-DEP
 'I am the one you greeted yesterday.' (lit. 'I am the one from yesterday
 you greeted.')
- b. *ka'apës* *yëëjtsëch* [mëti'ipë *oojts*
ka'ap=ës *y-ëëjts=ëch* mëti'ipë *oojts*
 NEG=1.EMPH 3A.DEP-1SG=IRR the.one PST
xkyaaajpxpo'kxën *axë'ëy*].
x-kyaaajpxpo'kx-y-ën *axë'ëy*
 2A.DEP-greet-ASP.DEP-DEP yesterday
 'I am not the one you greeted yesterday.'
- c. *ëëjtsës* [mëti'ipë *ka'ap oojts xkyaaajpxpo'kxën* *axë'ëy*].
ëëjts=ës mëti'ipë *ka'ap oojts x-kyaaajpxpo'kx-y-ën* *axë'ëy*
 1=1.EMPH the.one NEG PST 2A.DEP-greet-ASP.DEP-DEP yesterday
 'I am the one you didn't greet yesterday.'
- d. *ka'apës* *yëëjtsëch* [mëti'ipë *ka'ap oojts*
ka'apës *y-ëëjts=ëch* mëti'ipë *ka'ap oojts*
 NEG=1.EMPH 3A.DEP-1SG=IRR the.one NEG PST
xkyaaajpxpo'kxën *axë'ëy*].
x-kyaaajpxpo'kx-y-ën *axë'ëy*
 2A.DEP-greet-ASP.DEP-DEP yesterday
 'I am not the one you didn't greet yesterday.'

The same occurs with complement clauses, as in (84–87).

- (84) ntë'këpës [ko yë'ë ka'ap myiita'akëch].
 n-të'këp=ës ko yë'ë **ka'ap** y-miita'akëts-y
 1A.IND-fear=1.EMPH COMP DEM NEG 3S.DEP-win-ASP.DEP
 'I'm afraid that he is not going to win.'
- (85) mnä'kxk [ko yë'ë ka'ap myina'any].
 n-mnä'kx=k ko yë'ë **ka'ap** y-mina'an-y
 1A.IND-regret=EVID COMP DEM NEG 3S.DEP-come-ASP.DEP
 'I regret that he can't come.'
- (86) yë'ë ka'ap oojts ntaatëy [pen nmiimpyës
 yë'ë **ka'ap** oojts t-naatë-y pen n-miimp-y=ës
 DEM NEG PST 3A.DEP-ask-ASP.DEP COMP 1S.DEP-come-ASP.DEP=1.EMPH
 ëëjts].
 ëëjts
 1SG
 'He didn't ask if I'm coming.'
- (87) ka'apës niijaawë [pen Carlos tëë kääky
ka'ap=ës n-niijaaw-ë pen Carlos tëë kääky
 NEG=1.EMPH 1A.DEP-know-ASP.DEP COMP Carlos before.now tortilla
 tkay].
 t-kay-y
 3A.DEP-eat-ASP.DEP
 'I don't know whether Carlos ate tortilla.'

In clauses with an epistemic fixed expression, such as 'I think' (88a), however, the negative particle can take scope over either predicate (88b). To negate both, a different construction must be used (88c).

- (88) a. miinantëp yo'owë.
 ø-miinan-të-p yo'owë
 3S.IND-come-PL-ASP.IND I.think
 'I think they are coming.'
- b. ka'ap yo'owë myiin'a'antë.
ka'ap yo'owë y-miin'a'an-të
 NEG I.think 3S.DEP-come-PL
 'I don't think they are coming.' = 'I think they are not coming.'

- c. *ka'apēs* *nmēēpēky* *ko* *ka'ap* *myiin'a'antē*.
ka'ap=ēs *n-mēēpēk-y* *ko* ***ka'ap*** *y-miin'a'an-tē*
 NEG=1.EMPH 1A.DEP-think-ASP.DEP COMP NEG 3S.DEP-come-PL
 'I don't think that they are not coming.'

Lexically idiosyncratic negatives do not occur. However, negative potential and negative desiderative clauses exhibit a different structure. While the negator *ka'ap* is used, there is also a second negator *nii=*. The negator *nii=* also occurs in constituent negation (see §3.2). In the potential, *nii=* surfaces as part of an invariant form *ntiikeepy* 'can't' (89a–89f), which in the future changes to *ntiikāp'a'any* (89g–89h). Used by itself with the negator *ka'ap*, it translates as 'it can't be done', as in (90). The affirmative *nkeejpy* 'can' behaves in the same way.

- (89) a. *nkeejpyēs* *nēēkxēch*.
nkeejpy=ēs *n-nēēkx=ēch*
 can=1.EMPH 1S.DEP-go=IRR
 'I can go.'
- b. *ka'apēs* *ntiikeepy* *nēēkxēch*.
ka'ap=ēs ***ntiikeepy*** *n-nēēkx=ēch*
 NEG=1.EMPH NEG.can 1S.DEP-go=IRR
 'I can't go.'
- c. *nkeejpy* *mnēēkxēch*.
nkeejpy *m-nēēkx=ēch*
 can 2S.DEP-go=IRR
 'You can go.'
- d. *ka'ap* *ntiikeepy* *mnēēkxēch*.
ka'ap ***ntiikeepy*** *m-nēēkx=ēch*
 NEG NEG.can 2S.DEP-go=IRR
 'You can't go.'
- e. *oojts* *nkeejpyēs* *nēēkxēch*.
oojts *nkeejpy=ēs* *n-nēēkx=ēch*
 PST can=1.EMPH 1S.DEP-go=IRR
 'I could go.'
- f. *ka'ap* *oojts* *ntiikeepy* *nēēkxēch*.
ka'ap *oojts* ***ntiikeepy*** *n-nēēkx=ēch*
 NEG PST NEG.can 1S.DEP-go=IRR
 'I couldn't go.'

- g. nkeejpyēs nēēkxēch jēpomp.
 nkeejpy=ēs n-nēēkx=ēch jēpomp
 can=1.EMPH 1S.DEP-go=IRR tomorrow
 ‘I can go tomorrow.’
- h. ka’ap ntiikāp’a’any jēpomp nēēkxēch.
 ka’ap ntiikāp’a’any jēpomp nēēkx=ēch
 NEG NEG.can.FUT tomorrow 2S.DEP-go=IRR
 ‘I can’t go tomorrow.’
- (90) ka’ap (cham) ntiikeepy.
 ka’ap (cham) ntiikeepy
 NEG (now) NEG.can
 ‘It can’t be done (now).’
- (91) ka’apēkā’ā tniikāāpx.
 ka’ap=ēk=jä’ā t-nii-kāāpx-y
 NEG=EVID=DEM 3A.DEP-NEG-speak-ASP.DEP
 ‘(The gopher) could not speak (well).’
- (92) ets niika’apēka pi’kana’k tntēkē’ēnē tāākē.
 ets nii=ka’ap=ēk=ja’a pi’kana’k t-ntēkē’ē-nē tāākē
 and NEG=NEG=EVID=DEM child 3A.DEP-devour-ASP.DEP like.that
 ‘And he could not devour a child like that.’

The second negator *nii*= can also attach to other predicates or the negator *ka’ap* itself, and the clause assumes a potential or optative meaning, as in (91) and (92).

The optative is formed with a change in the verb stem and the same verbal suffixes found with the copula *i’t* in non-verbal negation. These suffixes are glossed as desideratives here. The negator *ka’ap* is used to negate optatives, as in (93b), (94b) and (95b). If there is a change in subject between the main clause and the dependent clause, then an irrealis marker is used in both the affirmative and the negative, and the dependent clause can be introduced by an optional complementizer *ko* (97). If the subject stays the same, the negative desiderative is used in the dependent clause (96).

- (93) a. Nēēkx’aampēs.
 nēēkx-’aam-p=ēs
 go-DES-ASP.IND=1.EMPH
 ‘I want to go.’

- b. ka'apēs nēēkx'a'any.
ka'ap=ēs n-nēēkx-'a'an-y
 NEG-1.EMPH 1S.DEP-go-DES.NEG-ASP.DEP
 'I don't want to go.'
- c. Nēēkx'aampēs ěnech.
 nēēkx-'aam-p=ēs ěnech
 go-DES-ASP.IND=1.EMPH PST
 'I wanted to go.'
- d. ka'apēs ěnech nēēkx'a'any.
ka'ap=ēs ěnech n-nēēkx-'a'an-y
 NEG-1.EMPH PST 1S.DEP-go-DES.NEG-ASP.DEP
 'I didn't want to go.'
- (94) a. Ääjts'aampēs.
 ääjts-'aam-p=ēs
 dance-DES-ASP.IND=1.EMPH
 'I want to dance.'
- b. ka'apēs n'ääjts'a'any.
ka'ap=ēs n-'ääjts-'a'an-y
 NEG-1.EMPH 1S.DEP-dance-DES.NEG-ASP.DEP
 'I don't want to dance.'
- c. Ääjts'aanēpēs.
 ääjts-'aanē-p=ēs
 dance-DES-ASP.IND=1.EMPH
 'I will want to dance (tomorrow).'
- d. ka'apēs n'ääjts'a'any.
ka'ap=ēs n-'ääjts-'a'an-y
 NEG-1.EMPH 1S.DEP-dance-DES.NEG-ASP.DEP
 'I won't want to dance (tomorrow).'
- (95) a. ntsoojkyēpyēs miijs mnēēkxēch.
 n-tsoojkyē-py=ēs miijs m-nēēkx=ēch
 1A.IND-want-ASP.IND=1 2SG 2S.DEP-go=IRR
 'I want you to go.'
- b. ka'apēs ntsoky miijs mnēēkxēch.
ka'ap=ēs n-tsok-y miijs m-nēēkx=ēch
 NEG-1.EMPH 1A.DEP-want-ASP.DEP 2SG 2S.DEP-dance=IRR
 'I don't want you to go.' = 'I want you not to go.'

- (96) ka'apēs ntsoky ka'apēs
ka'ap=ēs n-tsok-y **ka'ap=ēs**
 NEG-1.EMPH 1A.DEP-want-ASP.DEP NEG-1.EMPH
 nkay'ä'äny.
 n-kay-'ä'än-y
 1A.DEP-eat-DES.NEG-ASP.DEP
 'I don't want not to eat.'
- (97) a. ntsoojkyëpyēs (ko) (miijs) ka'ap mkayëch.
 n-tsoojkyë-py=ēs (ko) (miijs) **ka'ap** m-kay-ëch
 1A.DEP-want-ASP.IND=1.EMPH COMP 2SG NEG 2SG-eat=IRR
 'I want you not to eat.'
- b. ka'apēs ntsoky (ko) miijs mkayëch.
 ka'ap=ēs n-tsok-y (ko) miijs m-kay-ëch
 NEG-1.EMPH 1A.DEP-want-ASP.DEP COMP 2SG 2SG-eat=IRR
 'I don't want you to eat.'
- c. ka'apēs ntsoky (ko) miijs ka'ap mkayëch.
 ka'ap=ēs n-tsok-y (ko) miijs **ka'ap** m-kay-ëch
 NEG-1.EMPH 1A.DEP-want-ASP.DEP COMP 2SG NEG 2SG-eat=IRR
 'I don't want you not to eat.'

In some dependent clauses, the negative prefix *ka'*- occurs instead of the negator *ka'ap*, as in (98). This is rare, however.

- (98) ko jä'ä kääky kya'ku'uxë
 ko jä'ä kääky y-**ka'**-ku'uxë
 COMP DEM tortilla 3S.DEP-NEG-fill.up.DEP
 '[...] (and) when he didn't fill up with tortillas [...]

The same negator *ka-* occurs in lest-clauses, as in (99) and (100).

- (99) je'eyēs naaxweech nkoo kos nka'ech.
 je'eyë=s n-naaxweech nkoo ko-s n-**ka'**-ech
 only=1 1S.DEP-sit lest COMP-1 1S.DEP-NEG-dance.DEP
 'I only sat down so that I wouldn't (have to) dance.'
- (100) je'eyēs oo nēēkx nkoo kos nka'mëkääpx.
 je'eyë=s oo n-nēēkx nkoo ko-s n-**ka'**-mëkääpx
 only=1 PST 1S.DEP-go lest COMP-1 1A.DEP-NEG-talk.to.DEP
 'I left so that I wouldn't have to talk to him/her.'

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

No negative lexicalizations have been found in the data.

3 Non-clausal negation

This section treats negative replies to polar questions and negative indefinites, as well as negative concord and asymmetries.

3.1 Negative replies

A negative polar question can be answered either with an affirmative or with a negative clause. The negator *ka'ap* can be used as a single word answer to polar questions or as an answer to a polar question followed by a more elaborate answer that contradicts a previous statement, as in (101). Crosslinguistically, it is common to use negative existentials, such as *ka'ap*, for short, standalone answers “no” (Veselinova 2013), as in (102).

- (101) A: wi'ix ka'ap oo pën mpuuto'oxy 'i'të?
wi'ix ka'ap oojs pën mpuuto'oxy 'i'të
what NEG PST someone couples there.were
'What, there weren't any couples (present)?'

B: tämmës to'oxychëëjk.
tämmës to'oxychëëjk
there.were women
'Yes, there were women (present).'

- (102) A: miimp?
m-miim-p
2S.IND-come-ASP.IND
'Are you coming?'
- A: kii miny?
kii m-min-y
NEG 2S.DEP-come-ASP.DEP
'Aren't you coming?'
- B1: ka'ap.
'No [I am not coming].'

B2: oy.

‘Yes [I am coming].’

(103) A: yě’ë kii wi’ix tēē m’aně’ēmexēch?
 yě’ë kii wi’ix tēē m-’aně’ēmex=ēch
 DEM NEG what TEMP 2A.DEP-tell=IRR

‘He didn’t tell you anything?’

B: ka’ap, ka’ap wi’ix tēē inä’äny.
 ka’ap ka’ap wi’ix tēē inä’äny
 NEG NEG what TEMP tell

‘No, he didn’t tell me anything.’

B: tēēs xukowaaně.
 tēē=s x-tukowaaně
 TEMP=1 1P.DEP-tell

‘Yes, he told me.’

The same positive or negative one-word reply can be used to answer a positive or a negative question retaining the same meaning. In (103), a short pause after the negative particle *ka’ap* indicates a separate intonation unit and thus a one-word answer elaborated in a longer reply.

3.2 Negative indefinites

Negative indefinites are formed using a proclitic *nii=*, the same with constituent negation (see §4.1), different from the negator *ka’ap*. For instance, in negative indefinites such as ‘nobody’ *niipën* or ‘nowhere’ *niimaa*, the proclitic *nii=* is added to the interrogatives *pën* ‘who’ and *maa* ‘where’, respectively. The presence of a negative indefinite with the proclitic *nii=* generally triggers the negative prefix *ka’-* on the predicate resulting in negative concord, as in (104–106). It is worth noting that the negative proclitic *nii=* is not to be confused with the homophonous prefix *nii-* signaling animacy.

(104) *niipënēka’a* *täapë to’oxychëēj kya’iixa’chë.*
nii=pën=ēk=ja’a *täapë to’oxychëēj y-ka’-’iixa’ch-ë*
 NEG=someone=EVID=DEM this woman 3P.DEP-NEG-see.meet-INV
 ‘Nobody had met (seen) this woman.’

- (105) niimaa kyä'nyëëkxy niyaa
 nii=maa y-ka'-nëëkx-y nii=yaa
 NEG=where 3S.DEP-NEG-go-ASP.DEP NEG=here
 kya'näxy.
 y-ka'-näx-y
 3S.DEP-NEG-walk-ASP.DEP
 'She is going nowhere, not even here she is coming through.'
- (106) niipën jyä'ä tka'mënëëkxy.
 nii=pën jyä'ä t-ka'-mënëëkxy
 NEG=someone there 3A.DEP-NEG-took-ASP.DEP
 'Nobody took it there.'

While the three different negators (*nii=*, *ka'ap*, *ka'*-) are not attested in a single sentence in naturally-occurring discourse, (107) is deemed grammatical when elicited from a native speaker.

- (107) a. niika'na'a ka'ap kyäminy.
 niika'na'a ka'ap y-ka'-min-y
 never NEG 3S.DEP-NEG-come-ASP.DEP
 'S/he is never coming.'
- b. niika'na'a ma niipën kyänëëkxy.
 niika'na'a ma nii=pën y-ka'-nëëkx-y
 never where NEG=someone 3S.DEP-NEG-go-ASP.DEP
 'Nobody ever goes anywhere.'

The negator *niika'na'a* 'never' is a lexicalized form composed of two negators, the negative proclitic *nii=* and the clausal negator *ka'*-, in addition to the temporal pronoun *na'a* 'when'. It can be moved freely in the clause. The negator *nii* occurs also as a separate word (108), but the same as with *ka'ap*, it must always precede the predicate.

- (108) tää nii yë'ë ja kääky tka'kaychäänyë.
 tää nii yë'ë ja'a kääky t-ka'-kaychääny-ë
 then NEG DEM DEM tortilla 3A.DEP-NEG-finish.eat-INV
 'Then they never finished eating the tortilla.'

It is sometimes unclear if the the negator *nii=* represents a Spanish loan (Spanish *ni* 'not even' or *ni..ni* 'neither...nor'). Generally, if it is translated as 'not even'

or if it is repeated as a separate word, it represents the Spanish loan, as in (109). The Spanish loan *ni* ‘not even, neither’ can co-occur with the negator *ka’ap* or with the negative prefix *ka’-*.

- (109) a. *ni* *champaat* *Godë* *tka’niijaawë*.
 ni *champaat* *Godë* *t-ka’-niijaaw-ë*
 not.even until.now Godo 3A.DEP-NEG-know-ASP.DEP
 ‘[...] not even (until) now Godo knows about it.’
- b. *ka’ap* *tmaakääpxy* *ni* *comité* *ni* *pën*.
 ka’ap *t-maakääpx-y* **ni** *comité* **ni** *pën*
 NEG 3A.DEP-call-ASP.DEP neither committee nor someone
 ‘He didn’t call anyone, neither the committee nor anyone.’

Wichmann (1995: 572) identifies *ni* as a negator in proto-Mixe-Zoquean, as in **ni to* ‘nothing’. The same negator is reconstructed as **ka ti* for proto-Mixean. Thus, the proclitic *nii=* seems to be of Mixean origin, and the formal resemblance to Spanish *ni* is due to chance. What is interesting is that *nii=*/*ni* can also attach to the negative particle *ka’ap* in negative concord, as in (110).

- (110) *ets* *niika’apëka* *pi’kana’k ntëkë’ënë* *tääkë*.
 ets ***nii=ka’ap=ëk=ja’a*** *pi’kana’k t-nëkë’ën-ë* *tääkë*
 and NEG=NEG=EVID=DEM child 3A.DEP-devour-ASP.DEP like.that
 ‘And he could not devour a child like that.’

In (110) it is unclear if the negator *nii* represents the Spanish loan *ni* and the sentence thus translates as ‘and he could not even devour a child like that’.

Negative indefinites can also be expressed using the negator *ka’ap* instead of the proclitic *nii=*, as in (111–112). In fact, any constituent can be negated using the negator *ka’ap* (see §4.1).

- (111) *ka’apës* *pën* *npaatë* *tu’unëka inä’äny*.
 ka’ap=ës *pën* *n-paat-të* *tu’unëka inä’äny*
 NEG=1 someone 1A.EXCL.DEP-find-PL also they.say
 ‘We didn’t find anyone, they also said.’
- (112) *ka’apëka* *ma* *nyiikxy*.
 ka’ap=ëk=ja’a *ma* *y-niikx-y*
 NEG=EVID=DEM where 3S.DEP-go-ASP.DEP
 ‘She is going nowhere.’

Several negative expressions with a temporal reference (e.g. ‘never, not ever, not anymore, not yet’) are lexicalized. The negator *niika’na’a* or *niina’a* ‘never’ is a lexicalized form composed of either one or two negators, the negative proclitic *nii=* and the clausal negator *ka’-*, in addition to the temporal pronoun *na’a* ‘when’. The emphatic particle *ntim/wiintim/niintim* translated as ‘not ever/never ever’ occurs with the negator *ka’ap* or with other negative words, such as ‘never’ (113–114). It is unclear if this particle includes the negator *nii=*.

- (113) *wiintim mēku’uk xkyä’kooxtēch niika’ana’a!*
wiintim m-mēku’uk x-kä’-koox-tē=ēch **niika’ana’a**
 never.ever 2POSS-friends 2A.DEP-NEG-hit-PL=IRR never
 ‘Never ever hit your friends!’

- (114) *ka’ap wiintim jyotkuuk’achy.*
ka’ap wiintim y-jotkuuk-’ach-y
 NEG never.ever 3S.DEP-happy-VBZ-ASP.DEP
 ‘She’s never ever happy.’

Clauses with negative indefinites can exhibit asymmetries with respect to affirmative clauses. As discussed for standard negation, the negative markers generally trigger the dependent verb paradigm, i.e. a separate set of person and aspect markers along with a change in the verb stem. The negator *ka’ap* always triggers the dependent set, while the negative prefix *ka’-* does not³. When a negative word with the proclitic *nii=* co-occurs with the negative prefix *ka’-* the predicate can occur either in the dependent or the independent, based on the constituents preceding it. If a non-core constituent precedes the predicate, dependent inflection occurs, as in (115); otherwise, independent inflection may be present, as in (116).

- (115) *ka’ap pēn chē’ēkē.*
ka’ap pēn y-tsē’ēk-ē
 NEG someone 3S.DEP-be.afraid-DEP.ASP
 ‘Nobody was afraid.’
- (116) *niipēn kyaamēmētoowētē.*
nii=pēn ø-ka’-yaa-mēmētoow-ē-tē
 NEG=someone 3P.IND-NEG-CAUS-obey-INV-PL
 ‘Nobody obeyed him.’

³This can be explained by the negative existential cycle (Veselinova 2016). Negative existentials, such as *ka’ap*, generally form constructions on their own. When they are being used with a verbal predicate, they often require a special form, here the dependent inflection.

In both examples the constituent ‘nobody’ represents a core argument, but in (115) the negator *ka’ap* triggers the dependent paradigm, while in (116) the negative proclitic *nii=* does not.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Chuxnabán Mixe does not have an elaborate case system, and no negative derivation has been noted in the data.

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

In terms of scope of negation, it can be said that any of the three negators must precede the negated constituent or predicate/verb root, and that each constituent or predicate needs to be negated separately (see §2.1, 2.2.1, and 2.4).

Constituent negation parallels the construction found in negative indefinites (see §3.2). A proclitic *nii=* is added to the negated constituent which triggers the negative prefix *ka’-* on the predicate resulting in negative concord. The proclitic can also occur with numerals, as in *niimääjtsk* ‘not the two’. Any constituent can be negated using the negator *ka’ap*, as in (117) and (118).

- (117) *ka’ap tuky ka’ap wi’ix ka’ap iixtēm ëëjts neychukatuujkēmë.*
ka’ap tuky ka’ap wi’ix ka’ap iixtēm ëëjts n-eychukatuujk-ëmë
 NEG pieces NEG like NEG as.seen 1SG 1A.DEP-cut-1PL.INCL
 ‘[...] not pieces, not like that, not the same way like we cut (the tortillas)’

- (118) *mijtsëch ka’ap mtsë’ëkëtëch ka’ap wi’ix*
mijts-ëch ka’ap m-tsë’ëkë-të=ëch ka’ap wi’ix
 2-PL NEG 2S.DEP-be.afraid-PL=IRR NEG like.that
mjata’antë.
m-jata’an-të
 2P.DEP-happen-PL
 ‘Don’t be afraid, nothing like that will happen to you (pl)’

Effects of intonation and stress have yet to be studied for Chuxnabán Mixe.

4.2 Negative polarity

No negative polarity items have been found in the language.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Chuxnabán Mixe does not exhibit a robust case marking system, so no effects are noted on the marking of NPs with respect to negation.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The fact that multiple negators are possible (see §2.1) and required in some instances (see §3.2) could be considered instances of reinforcing negation, in particular in the rare cases where all three negators occur in the same sentence. It can also be speculated that *ka'ap* can be a univerbation of the negative prefix *ka'*- and a positive element used for emphasis. It can further be speculated that *ka'ap* represents an emphatic form of the negative marker that was used in addition to the original negative prefix *ka*- and then started to take over (see Van Gelderen 2016). Now the old negator *ka'*- is used mostly in sentences with constituent negation.

4.5 Negation and complex clauses

In Chuxnabán Mixe, each clause is negated separately (see §2.4). For coordinate clauses, it can be noted that the negator *ka'ap* gets sometimes translated as ‘neither’ or ‘not yet’ when it follows the particle *nen*, whereby *nen* translates as ‘also’, as in (119) and (120). The prohibitive particle *kětii* is also used to form the negative coordinator *neekětii* ‘neither’, as in (121).

- (119) perë nen ka'ap eech agentë jap.
perë **nen ka'ap** eech agentë jap
but also NEG was town.major there
‘[...] but neither was the town major present.’

- (120) nen ka'ap eech ja jëën no'oktë.
nen ka'ap eech ja'a jëën n-no'ok-të
also NEG was DEM fire 1S.DEP-burn-PL
‘[...] and we didn't burn fire yet.’

- (121) neekětii miny.
neekětii m-miny
neither 2S.DEP-come
‘Neither are you coming.’

This topic needs further study. It must be noted that Chuxnabán Mixe often uses Spanish clause connectors, such as *ni...ni* ‘neither...nor’.

5 Summary and conclusions

Chuxnabán Mixe, the same as its close relatives, has three main negators: the negative particle *ka'ap*, the negative verbal prefix *ka'*-, and the proclitic *nii*= used in constituent negation. A special negator *kětii/kii* is found in prohibitives. Overall, the negator *ka'ap* can be used for virtually any type of negation, including prohibitives (see §2.2.1) and constituent negation (see §3.2). In prohibitives, however, the irrealis enclitic =*ëch* is obligatory with *ka'ap*, to distinguish the clause from standard negation; it is optional with the special prohibitive negator (see §2.2.1). The formal resemblance between the negative particle and the negative prefix potentially points to a common source, whereby the negative prefix may represent the only negator and the negative particle the new form.

As expected, negation strategies in non-verbal clauses show many similarities. Overall, the negative existential *ka'ap* is used as the main negator. Negative constructions in equation and attribution overlap, as well as in locative and existential predication (§2.3). Interesting is the fact that non-verbal clauses exhibit multiple strategies for both affirmatives and negatives with different verbalizers and the irrealis enclitic =*ëch* in some negative forms. Table 10 summarizes the negators used for each type of negation.

Negative concord occurs for the most part in clauses where the negator *ka'ap* is not present. In fact, only *ka'ap* shows unrestricted use as the sole negator in a clause. Although the negative prefix *ka'*- may function as the only negator in a clause, this happens rarely, and there are restrictions associated with its use (see §2.1.1).

While paradigmatic asymmetries have not been noted for Chuxnabán Mixe, constructional asymmetries are sometimes present. There are two main verb paradigms, the dependent and the independent, each associated with a separate set of person prefixes, aspect suffixes, and verb stem shapes. Table 11 summarizes the presence of dependent marking in clauses with different types of negators. The horizontal axis indicates the presence of one or more negative markers in a clause; the vertical axis shows the inflection type on the predicate.

All in all, negation in Chuxnabán Mixe comprises different constructions for different types of negative expressions often with different competing constructions and negative markers interacting with one another and with the grammatical structure of the clause. The main goal of this first comprehensive study of negation in a Mixe-Zoquean language has been to yield a better understanding of negation in Mixe-Zoquean languages to pave the road for future studies, and to contribute to a systematic cross-linguistic comparison of negation.

Table 10: Summary of negation in Chuxnabán Mixe

Negation in declarative verbal clauses		Chapter	Examples
<i>ka'ap</i>	preverbal particle triggering special inflection used in independent clauses	§2.1	(3–7)
	and in dependent clauses	§2.4	(82–87)
<i>ka'-</i>	verbal prefix used in independent clauses	§2.1	(10–11)
	and in some dependent clauses	§2.4	(98–100)
<i>ka'ap + jëk</i>	“not anymore”	§2.1	(8–9)
<i>nen + ka'ap</i>	“neither”, “not yet”	§4.5	(119–120)
<i>ka' - + nēm</i>	“not yet”	§2.1	(12)
<i>ka'ap + nii=</i>	negative potential	§2.4	(89–92)
<i>ka'ap</i> (or <i>ka'-</i>)	negative optative	§2.4	(93–97)
Negation in non-declarative verbal clauses			
<i>kětii</i> or <i>kii</i>	preverbal particle (sometimes with optional irrealis enclitic = <i>ëch</i>) used in		
	a) prohibitives	§2.2.1	(21–27)
	b) negative polar questions (also in non-verbal clauses)	§2.2.2	(36–39)
	c) clauses with “neither” (<i>neekětii</i>)	§4.5	(121)
<i>ka'ap + =ëch</i>	preverbal particle + irrealis enclitic = <i>ëch</i> used in prohibitives	§2.2.1	(32–33)
<i>ka'ap</i>	Preverbal particle in negative polar questions (also in non-verbal clauses)	§2.2.2	(34)
<i>ka'-</i>	Verbal prefix in negative polar questions (also in non-verbal clauses)	§2.2.2	(35)
Negation in non-verbal clauses (equative, existential, locative, possessive)			
<i>ka'ap (+ =ëch)</i>	preverbal particle (for details, see Table 9)	§2.3	(42–81)
Non-clausal negation			
<i>nii= + ka'-</i>	proclitic and verbal prefix used in constituent negation and negative indefinites	§3.2	(104–106)
<i>ka'ap</i>	particle used in constituent negation	§4.1	(117–118)
	and in negative indefinites	§3.2	(111–112)
	and in negative replies	§3.1	(102–103)

Table 11: Summary of dependent/independent marking with different negators

	<i>ka'ap</i>	<i>ka'-</i>	<i>nii=</i>
Dependent	x		
Dependent	x	x	
Dependent	x		x
Dependent	x	x	x
Dependent/Independent		x	x
Dependent/Independent		x	
Dependent/Independent			x

Abbreviations

1	first person	INCL	inclusive
2	second person	IND	independent*
3	third person	INV	inverse
3'	non-salient third person	IRR	irrealis
A	agent(-like) argument of a transitive verb	LOC	locative
		NEG	negative
AN	animate	NML	nominal
ASP	aspect	P	patient(like) argument of a transitive verb
CAUS	causative		
COMP	complementizer	PERS	person
DEM	demonstrative	PL	plural
DEP	dependent*	POSS	possessive
DES	desiderative	PST	past tense
EMPH	emphatic	Q	question
EVID	evidential	S	single argument of an intransitive verb
EXCL	exclusive		
EX	existential	SG	singular
FUT	future	TEMP	temporal particle
IMP	imperative	VBZ	verbalizer

* Please note that these are language-family specific terms and do not refer to dependency in the sense of a complex sentences (where you have a main clause and a subordinate/dependent clause)

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Negation in Kogi

Dominique Knuchel

This paper discusses negation in Kogi, a Chibchan language spoken in Colombia. For standard negation (i.e. negation of main declarative clauses), three major markers can be identified whose use is dependent on the aspectual interpretation of a clause. These markers can further be used in stative predications, as well as most dependent and non-declarative clauses. In addition, there are dedicated negation markers in clauses marked for modality, optative and imperative mood, and two types of dependent clauses (i.e. circumstantial and purpose clauses). A further aspect of negation in Kogi concerns the expression of phasal polarity. Moreover, a negative existential verb can be used in certain stative predications and abilitive modality. Finally, in non-clausal negation, Kogi makes use of negative indefinite pronouns which consist of an interrogative pronoun in combination with an additive focus particle.

Keywords: Negation markers, Kogi language, phasal polarity, standard negation.

1 Introduction

This paper details the expression of clausal as well as non-clausal negation in Kogi (ISO: **kog**, Glottocode: **cogu1240**), an indigenous language of Colombia. Kogi belongs to the Chibchan language family, where it forms the Arwako subgroup together with its neighboring languages Ika (ISO: **arh**, Glottocode: **arhu1242**) and Damana (ISO: **mbp**, Glottocode: **mala1522**). The Kogi live in the region of the Sierra Nevada de Santa Marta, a mountain range in the north of Colombia. According to the most recent national census of Colombia which was conducted in 2018 (**DANE 2018**), the group comprises 15,820 individuals. The language name *Kogi* is commonly used in the anglophone linguistic and anthropological fields, while the language is known as *Cogui* in the Spanish-speaking area. The speakers themselves refer to their mother tongue as *Koguian*. The Kogi word *kaggaba* denotes the indigenous group of the Kogi, but also means ‘indigenous person’ in general.

Dominique Knuchel. 2025. Negation in Kogi. In Matti Miestamo & Ljuba Veselinova (eds.), *Negation book*, 1383–1424. Berlin: Language Science Press.

DOI: ?? 

The present study of Kogi negation is based on first-hand language data that was collected during three fieldwork periods in Colombia between September 2016 and December 2018. The questionnaire developed by Miestamo (2025) served as a guideline for the investigation of different aspects of negation as well as for the structure of the presentation.

§2 discusses the topic of clausal negation and takes into account declarative main clauses (i.e. standard negation), non-declarative clauses, stative predications as well as dependent clauses. §3 discusses negation in the non-clausal domain, more specifically negative replies and negative indefinite pronouns. §4 shortly discusses some other aspects of negation and a summary is provided in §5.

In addition to a general description, negative constructions are analyzed in terms of constructional and paradigmatic (a)symmetry, as proposed by Miestamo (2005). The first type of asymmetry refers to possible structural differences that negation marking causes in a clause. A construction is symmetrical when the negated clause does not differ from the affirmative in any other respect than the presence of a negation marker. As for the second type, a paradigm is symmetrical when the same grammatical categories are available in the affirmative and the negative (i.e. there is no neutralization of distinctions in the negative).

The remainder of this introduction presents some basic points and mentionable traits of Kogi grammar.

The morpho-phonological processes attested in Kogi are numerous and relatively complex, including, for instance, vowel raising, devoicing of intervocalic plosives and fricatives, or the denasalization of morpheme-initial nasal consonants. Some of these morpho-phonological rules are restricted to occur at certain morphological boundaries (e.g. prefix-stem, or stem-anti-clitic).

The basic constituent order is SOV and the language exhibits split ergativity marking on noun phrases conditioned by the referential nature of the noun phrase: personal pronouns follow the nominative-accusative pattern, while non-pronominal noun phrases show ergative-absolutive case marking.

Nominal morphology is fairly simple, involving only few inflectional and derivational processes. A distinction can be made between alienable and inalienable nouns, inalienable possession being marked by nominal prefixes. Case, number and discourse functions are marked by phrasal suffixes at the end of noun phrases.

Verbal morphology, by contrast, shows more complexity. Verbs can have up to three different stem allomorphs which are morphologically conditioned, i.e. their use depends on whether and what kind of inflectional suffixes are attached. Formally, the stem allomorphs differ in the presence of a stem formative *-a* (~ *-ya*

~ -*wa*; glossed as *sr*), or the deletion of final *k*. For example, the verb ‘ascend’ can take the form *nitshik* (e.g. with habitual aspect), *nitshika* (e.g. with future tense) or *nitshi* (as an independent verb form).

There are three distinct sets of markers that index core arguments of a clause on the verb. Each of the paradigms is typically associated with a specific argument role, i.e. Set I with S/A arguments, Set II with P arguments, and Set III with G arguments.

Certain TAM (tense, aspect, mood/modality) categories are expressed exclusively by synthetic verb forms (e.g. potential modality or habitual aspect), while others are denoted by periphrastic constructions involving different auxiliaries (e.g. obligative modality). A number of grammatical categories have both options available which – in semantic terms – can be used interchangeably (e.g. future tense).

A distinctive trait of Kogi grammar is the expression of engagement, i.e. the encoding of (a)symmetries in the distribution and access to knowledge (Evans & San Roque 2018). Engagement is encoded in four verbal prefixes that reflect two different parameters: epistemic authority (i.e. whose knowledge is targeted) and (non)-shared access (i.e. whether it is exclusive to one of the speech act participants or shared by both) (Bergqvist 2016). These markers are not obligatory but are used by a speaker when they wish to express their epistemic stance related to a proposition. The pragmatic functions of engagement markers are complex and their exact interpretation depends on the discourse context. The use of such a marker, however, can influence the choice of other grammatical categories, such as tense. That is, there is a separate tense paradigm involving a three-way distinction in remoteness.

Besides prefixes, suffixes and clitics, Kogi exhibits a further bound morpheme type which can be labeled anti-clitics. An anti-clitic constitutes the counterpart of the more known category of clitics, which are commonly defined as units that constitute independent words on the grammatical level, but are phonologically dependent on another word.¹ Anti-clitics by contrast, constitute independent words on the phonological level, while they cannot be considered independent words on the grammatical level. An anti-clitic is thus similar to an affix in that it forms part of a bigger grammatical unit. In contrast to affixes, however, an anti-clitic shows less (or no) phonological cohesion. In Kogi, this phonological independence is reflected in the fact that not all morphophonological processes that occur at affix boundaries also occur at anti-clitic boundaries. As an example,

¹For the concept of wordhood and the distinction between words on the grammatical and phonological level (g-words and p-words) see for example, Dixon & Aikhenvald (2002).

let us look at the morphophonological rule $n \rightarrow l / a_$ that applies at the affix stem boundary. This is illustrated in (1) with the inceptive suffix *-na*, where the initial *n* of the suffix is denasalized after *a*.

- (1) galá
ga-ná
eat-INCEP
'S/he began to eat.'

(2) shows an example of the past marker *#ne*, an anti-clitic. Note that # indicates the border between a stem and an anti-clitic. It is evident that the denasalization does not take place at the stem anti-clitic boundary. This suggests that the verb form in (2) consists of two phonological units, whereas it constitutes a single unit on the grammatical level.

- (2) gane
ga#ne
eat#PST
'S/he ate.'

A further rule concerns the denasalization of *m*: $m \rightarrow b / a_$. This rule, too, is observed at stem affix boundaries, but not at boundaries with anti-clitics. This is illustrated in (3). Note that the anti-clitic here is complex, i.e it consists of *#ne* 'PST' with the second person singular prefix *ma-*. It is apparent that the initial *m* of the complex anti-clitic (*#male*) does not denasalize.²

- (3) gamale
ga#ma-ne
eat#2SG.I-PST
'You ate.'

The distinction between affixes and anti-clitics is crucial for differentiating between the two markers *#ne* 'PST' and *-ne* 'NEG.HAB', the negative habitual suffix which is detailed in 2.1.3 below. While both markers seem identical at first sight, they differ in their morphophonological behaviour. Consider the verb form in (4), which differs from the one in (3) in only one respect: the *m* of the person marker is denasalized to *b*. Thus, the two markers clearly are distinct, one being an anti-clitic denoting past tense, the other one being a suffix expressing negation.

²Note also that, while denasalization of *n* does not take place at stem anti-clitic boundaries, it does so at the affix anti-clitic boundary within a complex anti-clitic (*#ma-ne* $\rightarrow$ *male*).

- (4) gabale
ga-ma-ne
eat-2SG.I-NEG.HAB
'You never eat.'

For the purpose of the present discussion, this short illustration, in particular the distinction between *#ne* 'PST' and *-ne* 'NEG.HAB' should suffice. The issue of wordhood in Kogi and especially the analysis of anti-clitics is a complex one and the interested reader will find more details in Knuchel (2022).

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation, i.e. the basic way of negating declarative main clauses, involves a number of different bound morphemes that reflect the aspectual value of a clause. A set of three negation markers, subsumed under the term 'major negation markers' here, is found in all declarative main clauses, namely general negative *-zhá* (§2.1.1), *-kí* 'NEG.IPFV' (§2.1.2) and *-ne* 'NEG.HAB' (§2.1.3). In addition, a dedicated negation marker *-sĩng(ze)* can be used with specific modality values and its source, i.e. the negative existential verb *sĩng(ze)*, features in the negation of abilitive modality (§2.1.4). Two further markers, namely *-gánga* 'not yet' and *-ksá* 'no longer', express values of phasal polarity (§2.1.5).

MM: @LSP:
how was it
again with
glosses in text,
parentheses
rather than
quotes?

2.1.1 Negation in perfective clauses: *-zhá*

The negation marker *-zhá* occurs in perfective past and future clauses. Note that perfective verbs are not overtly marked for aspect, and contrast with overtly marked imperfective predicates. The marker *-zhá* does not express perfective aspect, but occurs on verbs with a perfective meaning.

As a general rule, *-zhá* only attaches to lexical verbs, and never to auxiliaries. A first example featuring the past marker *#ne* is given in (5).³

- (5) a. Santa Martali nēnkale
Santa Marta-ni nē#nka-ne
Santa Marta-ALL go#1PL.I-PST
'We went to Santa Marta.'

³Note that the past anticlititic *ne* is distinct from the habitual past suffix *-ne* for reasons that are apparent in their morphophonological behaviour (see §2.1.3).

- b. Santa Martali nẽyazhánkale
 Santa Marta-ni nẽ-a-zhá#nka-ne
 Santa Marta-ALL go-ST-NEG#1PL.I-PST
 ‘We did not go to Santa Marta.’

Along similar lines, the negation marker occurs on the lexical verb in periphrastic past predicates marked for engagement, as the one in (6).⁴

- (6) a. mebák nak nigungú
 mebák nak ni-gu-ngú
 yesterday arrive SPKR.SYM-do-REC.PST
 ‘S/he arrived yesterday.’
 b. mebak nagazhá nigungú
 mebák nak-a-zhá ni-gu-ngú
 yesterday arrive-ST-NEG SPKR.SYM-AUX.PFV-REC.PST
 ‘S/he did not arrive yesterday.’

In comparing the lexical verbs in the affirmative clauses with those in the negative ones, it is apparent that the forms differ. In (5), for example, the stem denoting ‘go’ has the form *nẽ* in the affirmative and *nẽya* (featuring the stem vowel -a) in the negated clause. They constitute different inflectional stems, which are conditioned morphologically. That is, *nẽ* is used when an anti-clitic follows, i.e. #nka-ne ‘1PL.I-PST’, while *nẽya* (*nẽ-a*) is required when inflectional suffixes such as -zhá ‘NEG’ follow. The same alternation can be observed with *nak* ‘arrive’ in example (6). It occurs as *nak* without inflectional suffixes, and as *naka* (*nak-a*) before -zhá ‘NEG’.

It is important to note that this is not a consequence of negation marking specifically but rather a general morphological requirement. Therefore, the periphrastic past constructions can be considered symmetrical: While there is a structural difference in the form of the verb stem, it is not induced by negation marking.⁵

The periphrastic construction in (6b) has a synthetic counterpart, presented in (7a). However, such constructions cannot take the negation marker, as shown in (7b).

⁴As noted in the introduction, the functions of engagement markers are complex, and their exact interpretation depends on the pragmatic context. In grammatical elicitation focusing on tense and negation, the speaker symmetric form *ni-* was chosen as the least marked variant. As a pragmatic context that would allow for an interpretation of the engagement marker was absent, I do not include it in the free translation.

⁵A comparable apparent asymmetry is found in Canela-Krahô (Macro-Ge) as discussed by Miestamo (2005: 69).

- (7) a. mebák ninaggú
 mebák ni-nak-ngú
 yesterday SPKR.SYM-arrive-REC.PST
 ‘S/he arrived yesterday.’
 b. * ni-nak-a-zhá-ngú
 SPKR.SYM-arrive-ST-NEG-REC.PST

States of affairs with future time reference, similar to the recent past construction, can be expressed by either a synthetic verb or by a periphrastic construction, as illustrated in (8). In contrast to the past construction, however, the negation marker *-zhá* can be used in both variants, i.e. either on the synthetic form, as in (9a), or the lexical verb in a periphrastic construction, as shown in (9b).⁶

- (8) a. nakalika
 nak-a-líka
 arrive-ST-FUT
 ‘S/he will arrive.’
 b. nak gualika
 nak gu-a-líka
 arrive AUX.PFV-ST-FUT
 ‘S/he will arrive.’
 (9) a. nagazhálika
 nak-a-zhá-líka
 arrive-ST-NEG-FUT
 ‘S/he won’t arrive.’
 b. nagazhá gualika
 nak-a-zhá gu-a-líka
 arrive-ST-NEG AUX.PFV-ST-FUT
 ‘S/he won’t arrive.’

In comparing the affirmative future forms in Table 1 with their negative counterparts in Table 2, we can observe some idiosyncrasies which point to asymmetries between the two constructions, namely in the forms of second person and first person plural.⁷ In the second person forms, the person index changes from

⁶The alternation (*k* ~ *g*) between *naka* and *naga* in examples (5) and (6) is morphologically conditioned and should not concern the reader further.

⁷Note that the 1PL.I allomorph *-kua* used in the affirmative exclusively occurs in future tense.

a pre-stem position to post-stem position in the negated form. First person plural has two possibilities in negation: one in which the person index follows the stem, as in the affirmative, and one in which it precedes the stem. Both forms can be used interchangeably. The verb pairs of first person singular, and third person singular and plural, by contrast, are symmetrical in that the addition of the negative marker does not cause any structural changes. Note that the stem alternation *tuka* ~ *tuga* is conditioned morphologically and depends on the nature of the following suffix.

Symmetry can also be observed in paradigmatic terms, as all distinctions made in the affirmative are possible in the negative.

Table 1: Affirmative synthetic future tense of *tuk* ‘drink’

	SG	PL
1	<i>tukalikue</i> <i>tuk-a-líka-uge</i> drink-ST-FUT-1SG.I	<i>tugakualika</i> <i>tuk-a-kua-líka</i> drink-ST-1SG.I-FUT
2	<i>matukalika</i> <i>ma-tuk-a-líka</i> 2SG.I-drink-ST-FUT	<i>mintukalika</i> <i>min-tuk-a-líka</i> 2PL.I-drink-ST-FUT
3	<i>tukalika</i> <i>tuk-a-líka</i> drink-ST-FUT	<i>atukalika</i> <i>a-tuk-a-líka</i> 3PL.I-drink-ST-FUT

In negated future clauses, the negation marker *-zhá* has different allomorphs, as can be seen in Table 2. The allomorph *-zhá* always occurs directly after the stem (which is also the case in past clauses, where the marker exclusively is found in this environment). In the forms in which a person index precedes *-zhá*, the negation marker has the allomorphs *-ná* after *n* (2PL) and *-lá* after *a*. This variation can be explained by the frequent morpho-phonological process of denasalization $n \rightarrow l / _ a$.⁸ This points to a historically underlying form *-ná* of the negation marker. The process $n \rightarrow zh / i _$ ⁹ might account for the form *-zhá*, yet there is no element *i* present. For this reason, the allomorphy can be considered morphologically conditioned (at least from a synchronic perspective).

⁸E.g. *na-* ‘1SG.INAL’ + *nu* ‘elder sister’ $\rightarrow$ *nalú* ‘my elder sister’

⁹E.g. *mi-* ‘2SG.INAL’ + *nu* ‘elder sister’ $\rightarrow$ *mizhú* ‘your elder sister’

Table 2: Negative synthetic future tense of *tuk* ‘drink’

	SG	PL	
1	<i>tugazhálikue</i> <i>tuk-a-zhá-lika-uge</i> drink-ST-NEG-1SG.I-FUT	<i>tukankalálíka</i> <i>tuk-a-nka-zhá-lika</i> drink-ST-1PL.I-NEG-FUT	<i>katugazhálika</i> <i>nka-tuk-a-zhá-lika</i> 1PL.I-drink-ST-NEG-FUT
2	<i>tukabalálíka</i> <i>tuk-a-ma-zhá-lika</i> drink-ST-2SG.I-NEG-FUT	<i>tukabinálíka</i> <i>tuk-a-min-zhá-lika</i> drink-ST-2PL.I-NEG-FUT	
3	<i>tugazhálika</i> <i>tuk-a-zhá-lika</i> drink-ST-NEG-FUT	<i>atugazhálika</i> <i>a-tuk-a-zhá-lika</i> 3PL.I-drink-ST-NEG-FUT	

Summarizing the observations for the constructions and paradigms that involve the negation marker *-zhá*, asymmetry is present in the synthetic recent past, as this construction cannot be negated (cf. example (7) above).¹⁰ In all other respects, negation with *-zhá* is symmetrical.

2.1.2 Negative imperfective *-kí*

Imperfective aspect in affirmative clauses is expressed by a number of markers including *-tok~-nok* ‘PROG’¹¹ which expresses progressive aspect, and the two imperfective markers *-té* ‘IPFV₁’ and *-ĩ* ‘IPFV₂’. While the functional and distributional properties between the latter two are not yet fully understood, it appears that *-té* often conveys inchoative semantics, focussing on the beginning of a state of affairs, while *-ĩ* is used with stative verbs (see Knuchel 2022 for details). Note that this descriptive shortcoming does constitute a substantial problem for the present discussion, as clauses with either of these markers are negated by one and the same negation marker, namely *-kí* ‘NEG.IPFV’.

Imperfectives formed with *-té* ‘IPFV₁’ and *-ĩ* ‘IPFV₂’ can be followed by the imperfective auxiliary *nok*, which is optional in the present and required in other tenses. The negation marker *-kí* attaches to the lexical verb, where it replaces the affirmative imperfective marker, as is illustrated in examples (10–11).

¹⁰The same holds for hodiernal and remote past morphemes, which form a single paradigm with the recent past marker.

¹¹With 1PL and 2SG/PL subjects, the marker has the allomorph *-nok*, which is segmentally identical with its source, namely the lexical verb *nok* ‘be located’. The marker retains some verbal properties in that it is extended by the stem formative *-a* in certain instances, such as negation with *-kí* (see below).

- (10) a. *inzhi munaté (nzhok)*
 inzhi mun-a-té ni-nok
 yucca grow-ST-IPFV₁ SPKR.SYM-AUX-IPFV
 ‘The yucca plants are growing.’
- b. *inzhi munakí (nzhok)*
 inzhi mun-a-kí ni-nok
 yucca grow-ST-NEG-IPFV SPKR.SYM-AUX-IPFV
 ‘The yucca plants are not growing.’
- (11) a. *sui nakzeshĩ*
 sui nak-zek-ĩ
 cold 1SG.III-feel-IPFV₂
 ‘I’m cold.’
- b. *sui nakzegakí*
 sui nak-zek-a- kí
 cold 1SG.III-feel-ST-NEG-IPFV
 ‘I’m not cold.’

Clauses with the progressive marker *-tok~-nok* have two possible negative counterparts, which appear to be equal in meaning. In (12b), the negative imperfective marker *-kí* attaches after *-tok*, to a form that is extended with the stem vowel *-a*, apparently a retained trait from the markers source, the full verb *nok* ‘be located’. While affirmative progressive verbs accommodate person and tense markers, this is not the case in negated forms. Instead, these categories can be marked on the imperfective auxiliary *nok* (optional in present tense).

- (12) a. *arróz nugatukkuge*
 arróz nuk-a-tok-ka-uge
 rice cook-ST-PROG-PRS-1SG.I
 ‘I am cooking rice.’
- b. *arró z nugatogakí (nzhokú)*
 arróz nuk-a-tok-a-kí ni-nok-kú
 rice cook-ST-PROG-ST-NEG-IPFV SPKR.SYM-AUX-IPFV-1SG.I
 ‘I am not cooking rice.’

The sentence in (12a) can equally be negated with the clause in (13), which is the same negative construction as the one with *-ĩ* and *-té* imperfectives (examples (10b) and (11b) above).

- (13) arroz nugakí (nzhokú)
 arroz nuk-a-**kí** *ni-nok-kú*
 rice cook-ST-NEG.IPFV SPKR.SYM-be-1SG.I.PRS
 ‘I am not cooking rice.’

Negation marking in the imperfective involves constructional asymmetry. First, in the forms with *-ĩ* and *-té*, the aspect markers are dropped in negation. Secondly, negation of imperfectives with *-tok* causes the loss of person and tense marking on the lexical verb. Furthermore, we encounter paradigmatic asymmetry as the distinction among the different imperfective forms is largely neutralized in the negative domain and all constructions are negated with the same marker *-kí*.

2.1.3 Negative habitual *-ne*

Clauses with habitual meaning, marked with *-ka*, are negated by the suffix *-ne* ‘NEG.HAB’, as illustrated in example (14).

- (14) a. awalinti matukka
 awalinti ma-tuk-ka
 aguardiente 2SG.I-drink-HAB
 ‘You drink aguardiente (a type of liquor).’
 b. awalinti tugabale
 awalinti tuk-a-ma-**ne**
 aguardiente drink-ST-2SG.I-NEG.HAB
 ‘You never drink aguardiente.’

The full paradigms of the verb *tuk* ‘drink’ in its affirmative and negative habitual forms are given in Table 3 and Table 4.

While in the affirmative habitual, subject person is marked by verbal prefixes, the negated forms feature subject suffixes. The habitual negation marker has an allomorph *-zhe* in the first person singular. This alternation is reminiscent of the one in negated future verbs (see Table 2 above). Similarly to the allomorphy in the negative future, no phonological environment that would account for this change can be determined, as both *-zh(e)* and *-ne* occur after *a*. Thus, it can be maintained that the allomorphs are conditioned by morphology. Moreover, third person verbs feature an allomorph *gale*, which is attested exclusively in these forms.

Table 3: Habitual paradigm of *tuk* ‘drink’

	SG	PL
1	<i>tukkuge</i> <i>tuk-ka-uge</i> drink-HAB-1SG.I	<i>katukka</i> <i>ka-tuk-ka</i> 1PL.I-drink-HAB
2	<i>ma-tuk-ka</i> <i>ma-tuk-ka</i> 2SG.I-drink-HAB	<i>mintukka</i> <i>min-tuk-ka</i> 2PL.I-drink-HAB
3	<i>tukka</i> <i>tuk-ka</i> drink-HAB	<i>atukka</i> <i>a-tuk-ka</i> 3PL.I-drink-HAB

Table 4: Negative habitual paradigm of *tuk* ‘drink’

	SG	PL
1	<i>tugazhuge</i> <i>tuk-a-ne-uge</i> drink-ST-NEG.HAB-1SG.I	<i>tukankale</i> <i>tuka-nka-ne</i> drink-ST-1PL.I-NEG.HAB
2	<i>tugabale</i> <i>tuk-a-ma-ne</i> drink-ST-2SG.I-NEG.HAB	<i>tugabine</i> <i>tuk-a-min-ne</i> drink-ST-2PL.I-NEG.HAB
3	<i>tugagale</i> <i>tuk-a-gale</i> drink-ST-NEG.HAB	<i>atugagale</i> <i>a-tuk-a-gale</i> 3PL.I-drink-ST-NEG.HAB

The constructions are analyzed as asymmetric, given that the habitual marker *-ka* is dropped in the negated forms. Habitual aspect is expressed alongside negation by *-ne*. Furthermore, a striking structural difference is the position of subject indexes in the forms of first person plural and second person singular and plural. While these markers are prefixed in the affirmative, they occur after the verb stem as suffixes in the negative habitual.

While the marker *-ka* can have both a habitual and a present imperfective interpretation, *-ne* only negates habitual states of affairs. In other words, there is no one-to-one correspondence between the affirmative and the negative habitual on formal grounds. Rather, the choice of the negation marker depends on the aspectual/temporal interpretation of a clause. For example, the clause in (15) is marked with the first person present/habitual marker, has a present imperfective interpretation and is negated with *-kí*.

- (15) a. nahuli nēkuge
 na-hu-ni nē-ka-uge
 1SG.INAL-house-ALL go-PRS-1SG.I
 ‘I’m going home.’
 b. nahuli nēyaki
 na-hu-ni nē-a-kí
 1SG.INAL-house-ALL go-ST-NEG.IPFV
 ‘I’m not going home.’

The negative habitual verb forms can be combined with auxiliaries that denote tense to refer to, e.g. past situations as in (16).

- (16) a. sukkua nalgukuéng ũwã gákuge nane
 sukkua nal-gu-ku-éng ũwã ga-ka-uge nal#ne
 child be-REM.PST-1SG.I-SIM meat eat-HAB-1SG.I AUX#PST
 ‘When I was I child, I had the habit of eating meat.’
 b. ũwã gazhuge nane
 ũwã ga-**ne**-uge nal#ne
 meat eat-NEG.HAB-1SG.I AUX#PST
 ‘I did not have the habit of eating meat.’

2.1.4 Negation in modal constructions

Kogi marks four types of event modality: obligative, volitive, abilitive (for acquired ability) and potential. While the first three are expressed by a combina-

tion of a lexical verb and a modal verb, potential modality is expressed through a synthetic lexical verb carrying a modal marker.

Negated clauses marked for modality involve the standard negation markers described above. However, there are further strategies that can be observed in the negation of modality, for example a negative construction which involves the modal suffix *-sing(ze)* on lexical verbs. Another construction, namely the one of negative abilitive modality, involves the negative verb *sing(ze)*.

Negation is marked on the modal verb in the constructions that feature one, i.e. obligative, volitive and abilitive. This is illustrated with the obligative modality clauses in (17), which involve a lexical verb marked with *-kue* and the modal verb *agatsa*.¹²

- (17) a. *colegioli nēyakue nagatsane*
 colegio-ni nē-a-kue nak-a-zal#ne
 school-ALL go-ST-OBLIG 1SG.III-POSS-be#PST
 ‘I had to go to school.’
 b. *colegioli nēyakue nagatsalazhane*
 colegio-ni nē-a-kue nak-a-zal-a-zhá#ne
 school-ALL go-ST-OBLIG 1SG.III-POSS-be-ST-NEG#PST
 ‘I didn’t have to go to school.’

In obligative, volitive and abilitive clauses, markers of standard negation are attached to the modal verb. In this respect, these negative constructions contrast with those unmarked for modality, where the locus of negation marking typically is the lexical verb. Any of the major negation markers can be used, depending on the aspectual value of the clause.

The potential marker *-akka* can have a permissive or abilitive interpretation. Potential verbs consist of a verb stem, followed by a person index and the potential marker, as is shown in (18). Such predicates exclusively accommodate the negative marker *-zhá*.

- (18) a. *zú kazinakka*
 zĩ-nuk-a-zĩna-akka
 ANTIP-cook-ST-1SG.II-POT
 ‘We may cook.’

¹²The obligative modal verb can be analyzed as consisting of an indirect object marker (typical for experiencer predicates), a possessive marker and the stem *zal* ‘be’: *agatsa* – *ak-a-zal* (3SG.III-poss-be). This is reminiscent of the verb form in possessive predication which is based on a different lexeme with the meaning ‘be’, namely *nal*. For details, about possessive predicates see §2.3.

- b. zugazházinakka
 zĩ-nuk-a-**zhá**-zĩna-akka
 ANTIP-COOK-ST-NEG-1SG.II-POT
 ‘We may not cook.’

Negation of abilitive clauses that refer to an acquired ability involves the negative existential verb *sĩngze*. Its affirmative counterpart *kual ~ kue* ‘exist’ is used with the sense of knowing or being capable of something when indirect object markers index the subject. With this meaning, the verb is used as a modal verb in abilitive clauses, as exemplified in (19a), and is negated by replacing the stem with the negative verb *sĩng(ze)* (19b). Note that this polysemy of existence in modal constructions has been observed as well in other languages, where the same expression is used in abilitive and existential constructions. This is noted, for example, by Veselinova (2013) for Hawai’ian. Alternatively, abilitive clauses can be negated with the habitual negative marker, as in (19c).

- (19) a. huẽn-a nak-kué
 swim-ST 1SG.III-exist
 ‘I can / know how to swim.’
 b. huẽn-a nak-**sĩngze**
 swim-ST 1SG.III-NEG.EX
 ‘I can’t / don’t know how to swim.’ (lit. ‘Swimming exists / does not exist to me.’)
 c. huẽn-a nak-kual-a-**gale**
 swim-ST 1SG.III-exist-ST-NEG.HAB
 ‘I can’t / don’t know how to swim.’

Note that the verb *sĩngze* is the negative existential, discussed in §2.3 below.

In addition to negation with the major markers discussed above, obligative, volitive and potential modality verbs may take the suffix *-sĩng(ze)*, which is a grammaticalized form of the negative existential verb.¹³ The forms *-sĩng* and *-sĩngze* appear to be interchangeable; the source or original function of *ze* is unknown.

The suffix attaches to the lexical verb (rather than to the modal) and is neutral in terms of modal meaning, i.e. it is used for any of the three modalities. The

¹³Cross-linguistically, negative existentials are a common source of markers of verbal negation (cf. the “Negative Existential Cycle” discussed by Croft (1991) or Veselinova (2014)), as is the case in Kogi. It must be noted, however, that such developments are often only partial takeovers of the domain of verbal negation, as discussed by Veselinova (2016).

negation marker replaces the one of modality, as illustrated in (20–21). The type of modality instead is indicated by the modal verb (19b), or can be inferred from context, as in (21b).¹⁴

- (20) a. matú nana nakzeshĩ
 matũ-nana nak-zek-ĩ
 2SG.II-see-VOL 1SG.III-feel-IPFV₂
 ‘I want to see you.’
 b. alé ngki tũasĩng akzeshĩ
 aléng-ki tũa-sĩng ak-zek-ĩ
 3SG-TOP see-NEG 3SG.III-feel-IPFV₂
 ‘She doesn’t want to see [him].’
- (21) a. tũanakka
 tũ-a-na-akka
 see-ST-1SG.II-POT
 ‘I can see [it].’
 b. muldetwa tũasĩng
 muldetwa tũa-sĩng
 well see-NEG
 ‘I can’t see it well.’

Negation with *-sing(ze)* can be characterized as asymmetric in both constructional and paradigmatic terms. The negative modality marker replaces affirmative modality markers, which constitutes a structural difference. Moreover, in the case of potential modality (20), person marking on the lexical verb is omitted. As for the paradigmatic structure, the distinction between obligative, volitive and potential is neutralized in the negative paradigm.

The different strategies of negation and their compatibility with different modalities are summarized in Table 5. At present, it is not clear what determines the choice of the standard negation markers or the negative existential.

2.1.5 Phasal polarity

Kogi has dedicated markers of phasal polarity, a category that combines polarity distinctions with temporal/aspectual meanings (van der Auwera 1998, Kramer 2017). This is illustrated in the examples in (22).

¹⁴In negative modal clauses with *-sing(ze)*, the modal verb is often omitted.

Table 5: Negation in modal clauses

	Structure (3SG, affirm.)	Standard negators	Suffix -sing(ze)	Verb sing(ze)
Obligative	<i>V-kue agatsé</i> 'he has to V'	any, on modal V	<i>V-sing(ze)</i> <i>agatsé</i>	–
Volitive	<i>V-nana akzeshi</i> 'he feels like V-ing'	any, on modal V	<i>V-sing(ze)</i> <i>akzeshi</i>	–
Abilitive	<i>V akkué</i> 'he knows how to V'	any, on modal V	–	<i>V aksing(ze)</i>
Potential	<i>V-akka</i> 's/he can/may V'	exclusively -zhá on lexical verb	<i>V-sing(ze)</i>	–

- (22) a. José ya ahuk izhukka
 José ya a-hu-k i-nok-ka
 José already 3SG.INAL-house-LOC LOC.APPL-be.located-PRS
 'José is already at home.'
- b. José ahuk izhukkaga
 José a-hu-k i-nok-ka-ga
 José 3SG.INAL-house-LOC LOC.APPL-be.located-PRS-still
 'José is still at home.'
- c. José ahuk izhogaksá
 José a-hu-k i-nok-a-ksá
 José 3SG.INAL-house-LOC LOC.APPL-be.located-ST-no.longer
 'José is no longer at home.'
- d. José ahuk izhogagánga
 José a-hu-k i-nok-a-gánga
 José 3SG.INAL-house-LOC LOC.APPL-be.located-ST-not.yet
 'José is not yet at home.'

Expressions of phasal polarity have been characterized as involving “reference points at two related phases implying situations which are contrasted as opposites with different polarity values” (Kramer 2017: 1). More precisely, the expressions *already* and *still* indicate that the proposition *John is at home* holds at a certain reference point, while at the same time referring to a point in time, either preceding (i.e. *already*) or subsequent (i.e. *still*), at which it does not hold. The expressions *no longer* and *not yet*, by contrast, express that the proposition is not

the case at a certain reference point, while referring to a reference point, either preceding (i.e. *no longer*) or subsequent (i.e. *not yet*), at which the proposition holds.

In Kogi, the phasal polarity value of ‘already’ is expressed by the Spanish loan *ya* ‘already’ (22a), and the value ‘still’ by the suffix *-ga* (22b).¹⁵ Both negative phasal values are expressed by affixes, namely *-ksá* ‘no longer’ (22c) and *-gánga* ‘not yet’ (22d).

While forms with *-gánga* do not take person marking, this is the case in constructions with *-ksá*, as exemplified in (23). Instead of subject indexes, the subject is referenced with direct object markers in this construction.

- (23) huk izhogalaksá
hu-k i-nok-a-na-ksá
house-LOC LOC.APPL-be.located-ST-1SG.II-no.longer
‘I am no longer at home.’

With regard to tense, no restrictions in the use of *-ksá* and *-gánga* are attested. In other words, negative phasal polarity affixes can be used in clauses with past, present as well as future time reference. The markers only apply in periphrastic constructions where they attach to the lexical verb while tense is marked on the auxiliary. This is illustrated in (24) and (25).

- (24) nuzhí nki mulbatá akzegaksá gualika
nuzhín-ki mulbatá ak-zek-a-ksá gu-a-líka
tomorrow-TOP sickness 3SG.III-feel-ST-no.longer AUX.PFV-ST-FUT
‘Tomorrow, I will no longer be sick.’

- (25) mebakke tuang zeshĩ nki nahate nagagánga nigungú
mebák-ke tuang zek-ĩ-ki na-hate
yesterday-SUB dark happen-ST-IPFV₂-TOP 1SG.INAL-father
nak-a-gánga ni-gu-ngú
arrive-ST-not.yet SPKR.SYM-AUX.PFV-REC.PST
‘Last night, my father hadn’t arrived yet.’

Verbs marked with *-ksá* ‘no longer’ necessarily denote a durative state of affairs, which no longer holds at the time of speaking. Thus, predicates marked

¹⁵The marker *-ga* is also found with parts of speech other than verbs, e.g. nouns or postpositions, and depending on the context has a number of different functions: in addition to ‘still’, it may be used for emphasis and to denote ‘too, also’ or ‘the same’. This is a common polysemy of markers of ‘still’ (cf. van Baar 1997).

with *-ksá* always have a perfective reading. States of affairs marked with *-gánga* ‘not yet’, by contrast, are neutral in terms of aspectual interpretation. That is, depending on the employed auxiliary, it has a perfective (26a) or imperfective (26b) reading.

- (26) a. *María zugagánga niguá*
 María zĩ-nuk-a-gánga ni-gu-á
 María ANTIP-cook-ST-not.yet SPKR.SYM-AUX.PFV-HOD.PST
 ‘María did not cook yet.’
- b. *María zugagánga nzhok*
 María zĩ-nuk-a-gánga ni-nok
 María ANTIP-cook-ST-not.yet SPKR.SYM-AUX.IPFV
 ‘María is not cooking yet.’

While English has distinct expressions for each of the values, there are languages in which there is a relationship in terms of negation between two members, i.e. they constitute a pair of the same expression in an affirmative and a negated form. The Spanish expression *todavía no* ‘not yet’, for example, is a negated form of *todavía* ‘still’. Löbner (1989) characterizes the relationships that hold among phasal polarity expressions in terms of internal versus external negation. In internal negation, an element has the negation in its scope, i.e. (x NOT), whereas in external negation, the element is within the scope of negation, i.e. NOT(x). Thus, the relationship between Spanish *ya* and *ya no* is an internal one and can be conceptualized as (still NOT) = ‘not yet’.

Along similar lines, a relationship of internal negation may be postulated to hold between *-ga* ‘still’ and *-gánga* ‘not yet’, as it seems that the former is included in the latter. That is, *-gánga* can be considered a negated form of *-ga*, given that one of the syllables is considered a negation marker. While the morpheme *-ga* is not attested as a negation marker in any other environment, it is associated with negation in that it is part of the prohibitive marker *-gabba* (see §2.2.1), and occurs in the third person allomorph of the negative habitual, i.e. *-gale*. At present, I have no conclusive answer to the historical source of *-gánga*.

(A)symmetries in the structure of paradigms, as introduced by Miestamo (2005), can also be determined in phasal polarity systems. Kramer (2017: 16–19) makes a distinction between internal and external (a)symmetry. The internal symmetry relates to expressability (i.e. a symmetric system has expressions for each of the four values) and morphosyntactic status (i.e. in terms of wordhood / morphosyntactic position) of phasal polarity expressions. Kramer’s concept of external symmetry is similar to paradigmatic symmetry as introduced by Miestamo (2005).

That is, the system is symmetric if the same distinctions (e.g. in terms of TAM) in the affirmative can combine with all phasal polarity expressions.

From the internal (a)symmetry perspective, the Kogi system can be considered asymmetric in terms of morphosyntactic status among the expressions. Both negative phasal polarity markers attach to the dependent verb stem. The marker denoting ‘still’ by contrast, occurs in the left-most slot of an inflected verb form. Finally, the particle *ya* ‘already’ borrowed from Spanish stands out in that it is an unbound morpheme that is not restricted to only one syntactic slot in the clause. In this respect Kogi is similar to many European languages where expressions for ‘already’ are markedly different from the rest of phasal polarity expressions (cf. [van der Auwera 1998](#)).

In terms of tense, the negative phasal polarity markers show paradigmatic symmetry. That is, all tense distinctions can occur in the corresponding negative polarity constructions. The interactions of negative phasal polarity and aspect are more complex. While *-gánga* ‘not yet’ is compatible with both perfective and imperfective aspect, *-ksá* ‘no longer’ always has a perfective interpretation, in that it denotes events that are completed.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Negative non-declarative clauses generally feature the same negation markers as declarative clauses. Exceptions are imperative and optative clauses with second person subjects, which are negated with the suffix *-gabba*.

2.2.1 Negation of optatives and imperatives

Optative mood, i.e. the expression of hopes or wishes, is marked by the suffix *-lí*.¹⁶ As exemplified in (27), the negation marker *-zhá* is used in the negative clause (27b).

- (27) a. *hanshibé nakalí*
 hanshibé nak-a-lí
 good arrive-ST-OPT
 ‘Hopefully, he will arrive safely.’
 b. *itshuanazháli*

¹⁶The marker *-lí* is generally associated with future reference. It is used as future marker in subordinate verbs and is a component of the future marker *-líka*. When occurring in main clauses, *-lí* denotes an uncertain future.

itshuan-a-zhá-lí
 get.lost-ST-NEG-OPT
 ‘Hopefully, he doesn’t get lost.’

Optative clauses with second person subjects differ in terms of negation as they employ the dedicated negation marker *-gabba*, as illustrated in (28).

- (28) a. hanshibé malēyalí
 hanshibé ma-ně-a-lí
 good 2SG.I-go-ST-OPT
 ‘Travel safely!’ (lit. ‘May you go well!’)
 b. tashimali mitshuanagabba
 tashima-ni ma-itshuan-a-gabba
 woods-LOC 2SG.II-get.lost-ST-NEG.OPT
 ‘May you not get lost in the woods.’

The marker *-lí* is also used in the expression of invitations, which can be conceived of as a mitigated form of commands. For the more prototypical expression of commands, namely imperatives, Kogi has two dedicated markers for second singular and second plural clauses, which is cross-linguistically very common (see *van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev) 2013*). Imperatives featuring *-gua* ‘IMP.SG’ and *-guĩ* ‘IMP.PL’ are illustrated in (29).

- (29) a. tũ-gua!
 look-IMP.SG
 ‘Look! (SG)’
 b. tũ-guĩ!
 look-IMP.PL
 ‘Look! (PL)’

Negative imperatives, also called prohibitives (*van der Auwera et al. 2013*), also feature the negation marker *-gabba*, as shown in (30). The Kogi prohibitive belongs to the fourth type defined by *van der Auwera et al. (2013)*, i.e. it differs structurally from the affirmative imperative and features a negation marker that does not occur in indicative declaratives.

- (30) tũ-a-gabba
 look-ST-PROH
 ‘Don’t look! (SG/PL)’

Second person optative and imperative clauses are structurally asymmetrical given that the mood marker is dropped when the clause is negated. Moreover, optative and imperative paradigms can be characterized as asymmetrical, as optative clauses have two types of negative constructions depending on the subject. Moreover, the number distinction found in imperative clauses is neutralized in prohibitives.

It is evident that the negation marker *-gabba* in non-declarative clauses is associated with second person. The same suffix is used in negative circumstantial clauses such as in *walk without looking*, which are discussed in §2.4 below.

2.2.2 Negation in questions

As for interrogatives, there are no dedicated negation markers and the same constructions as in standard negation are used. It can be maintained that questions tend to be marked on auxiliaries, whereas negation markers more commonly attach to lexical verbs. A question formed by the interrogative marker *-é* is illustrated in (31).¹⁷

- (31) a. arróz habbi makungué?
arróz habbi ma-gu-ngú-é
rice buy 2SG.I-AUX.PFV-REC.PST-Q
'Did you buy rice?'
b. arróz habbiazhá makungué?
arróz habbi-a-zhá ma-gu-ngú-é?
rice buy-ST-NEG 2SG.I-AUX.PFV-REC.PST-Q
'Didn't you buy rice?'

When expressing a request for information with a negative interrogative construction, the speaker typically has reason to believe that the questioned proposition is not the case. This is illustrated in the question-answer pair in (32), in which speaker A, who in fact knows about the condition of speaker B's father, asks for confirmation of his assumption that the father did not come down from the village in the mountains. Speaker B answers the question with the negative reply *nada* and confirms speaker A's assumption.¹⁸

¹⁷There are two further interrogative strategies, namely marking only by falling intonation and by engagement markers which target the addressee's knowledge. All interrogative constructions behave alike in terms of negation.

¹⁸*nada* is borrowed from Spanish *nada* 'nothing' and is used as a sort of emphatic negative reply (see §3.1).

- (32) Q: mihate zabazhá?
 mi-hate zabi-a-zhá
 2SG.INAL-father descend-ST-NEG
 ‘Your father did not come down?’
- A: nada ěki kala akzeshĩ
 nada ě-ki kala ak-zek-ĩ
 no DEM-TOP leg 3SG.III-hurt-IPFV₂
 ‘No, his legs are hurting.’

Negative interrogatives are often used as tag questions to seek the interlocutor’s confirmation, as in the following examples (33–34) from an interactional, picture-based story building task.

- (33) hika nēshatukka hana agatsé, NALAGALE SHINA?
 hika nē-sha-tuk-ka hana agatsé nal-a-gale shi-nal
 something go-CAUS-PROG-PRS like look be-ST-NEG.HAB ADDR.SYM-be
 ‘It looks like he is vending something, DOESN’T IT?’
- (34) hũa, somá nóngutse, TŪAKÍ SHIMALA?
 hũa somá nóngutse tũ-a-kí shi-ma-nal
 look baby little see-ST-NEG.IPFV ADDR.SYM-2SG.I-be
 ‘Look, the baby is little, DON’T YOU SEE?’

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Stative predicates do not exhibit any specialized markers and the major negation markers are used in these constructions. The choice of the marker depends on the aspectual interpretation of a clause, which is often determined by the type of state of affairs in terms of (im)permanence.

In the affirmative domain, equation and proper inclusion in present tense are typically expressed by juxtaposition of the subject and the predicate. The copula *nal* ‘be’ is optional in present tense (as in (35a)), whereas it is required when markers of tense or modality are employed. This is illustrated in (35) with an example of an equation clause, where *gale* ‘NEG.HAB’ attaches to the copula.

- (35) a. Maríaki nahaba (na)
 María-ki na-haba nal
 María-TOP 1SG.INAL-mother COP
 ‘María is my mother.’

- b. Maríaki nahaba nalagale
María-ki na-haba nal-a-gale
María-TOP 1SG.INAL-mother COP-ST-NEG.HAB
'María is not my mother.'

With regard to structural differences, the clauses in (35) differ in the obligatoriness of the copula verb. Note however, that this is not due to negation marking specifically but rather a general morphosyntactic requirement for expressing certain inflectional categories such as negation or tense (e.g. past tense in (36) below).

Adjectives in Kogi can be divided broadly into two classes: those that are used independently, and those that always occur with an auxiliary verb in both attributive and predicative function. The independent class consists of a relatively small number of adjectives which denote properties such as age, color or size. Similar to nominal predicates, adjectival predicates in present tense are juxtaposed to the subject, the copula being optinal. The use of inflectional markers requires the copula, as in the past tense forms in (36). The copula is also the base for negation marking, as shown in (36b).

- (36) a. zhiklukká nánuge
zhiklukká nal#ne-uge
tall COP#PST-1SG.I
'I was tall.'
- b. zhiklukká nalazhánuge
zhiklukká nal-a-zhá#ne-uge
tall COP-ST-NEG#PST-1SG.I
'I was not tall.'

Adjectives belonging to the second class cannot occur on their own but must be combined with an auxiliary in both predicative or attributive use, namely *at-sál* for properties that are visually perceivable and *zal* for properties that are perceived through other senses, e.g. taste. These dependent adjectives express properties that can be either temporary or permanent, a distinction which is reflected in the choice of negation marker. More permanent states are negated with the negative habitual (37b), while those that hold temporarily take the negative imperfective (38).

- (37) a. hanshi nagatsé

- hanshi nak-atsal
 beautiful 1SG.III-AUX
 'I'm beautiful.'
- b. hanshi nagatsalagale
 hanshi nak-atsal-a-gale
 beautiful 1SG.III-AUX-ST-NEG.HAB
 'I'm not beautiful.'
- (38) a. zhakua hanshi agatsé
 zhakua hanshi ak-atsal
 dress clean 3SG.III-AUX
 'The dress is clean.'
- b. zhakua hanshi agatsaldakí
 zhakua hanshi ak-atsal-a-kí
 dress clean 3SG.III-AUX-ST-NEG.IPFV
 'The dress is not clean.'

Existential and locative predications are structurally similar in Kogi. That is, both kinds of constructions can feature either a locative verb, the existential verb *kual* ~ *kue*, or a combination of both. While there are certain characteristics that set the two construction types apart, they are identical in terms of negation, i.e. in both, negation markers attach to the existential verb.

A prototypical existential involves a compound verb consisting of a locative root and the existential verb, as in (39).

- (39) baka abaksī zhe-kue
 cow black be.located.PL-exist
 'There are black cows.'

In some instances, the existential verb can be used on its own, e.g. when referencing shapeless objects (e.g. smoke) or objects whose position is not known. An existential construction may also involve solely a locative verb, in which case they are mainly distinguished from locative predicates on the basis of the order of Figure and Ground noun phrases.

When the Ground NP precedes the Figure NP (40), only an existential reading is possible. Clauses with the order Figure – Ground are prototypical locative predications; however, they can also be interpreted as existential predications (41).

- (40) a. mesa-k kalta i-pá
 table-LOC book LOC.APPL-lie
 b. mesa-k kalta i-pa-kue
 table-LOC book LOC.APPL-lie-exist
 ‘There is a book on the table.’ (*‘The book is on the table.’)

- (41) kalta mesa-k i-pá
 book table-LOC LOC.APPL-lie
 ‘The book is on the table.’ or ‘There is a book on the table.’

Locative predicates prototypically have the structure [Figure – Ground – locative verb], as illustrated in (41), and (42) below. While the existential verb can be used in locative predication instead of a locative verb in some instances (42), the compound verb (such as the one in (39)) does not occur in these constructions.

- (42) haggi canasta-li ak-kué
 stone basket-LOC INE-exist
 ‘The stone is in the basket.’

Turning to negation, both existentials and locatives have the same structure, namely imperfective or habitual negation is marked on the existential verb and cannot attach directly to a locative verb. In the case of locative predication, the presence of *kual* ~ *kue* is a general morphosyntactic requirement for the use of inflectional markers such as tense and also negation, as shown in (43–45).

- (43) baka atsĩtshi zhe-kual-a-gale
 cow red be.located.PL-exist-ST-NEG.HAB
 ‘There are no red cows.’
- (44) mesa-k kalta i-pa-kual-a-kí
 table-LOC book LOC.APPL-lie-exist-ST-NEG.IPFV
 ‘There is no book on the table.’
- (45) a. kalta mesa-k i-pa-kual-a-kí
 book table-LOC LOC.APPL-lie-exist-ST-NEG.IPFV
 b. * kalta mesa-k i-pa-kí
 book table-LOC LOC.APPL-lie-NEG.IPFV
 ‘The book is not on the table.’

In possessive predications, exemplified in (46–47) either negation marker is attested, depending on the permanence of the situation.

- (46) a. puelta nakalé
 puelta nak-a-nal
 money 1SG.III-POSS-be
 ‘I have some money.’
 b. puelta nakalalakí
 puelta nak-a-nal-a-kí
 money 1SG.III-POSS-be-ST-NEG.IPFV
 ‘I don’t have any money (on me right now).’
- (47) a. nalú nakalé
 na-nu nak-a-nal
 1SG.INAL-elder.sister 1SG.III-POSS-be
 ‘I have an elder sister.’
 b. nalú nakalalagale
 na-nu nak-a-nal-a-gale
 1SG.INAL-elder.sister 1SG.III-POSS-be-ST-NEG.HAB
 ‘I don’t have an elder sister.’

An alternative strategy for negation features the negative existential verb *sing(ze)*. These constructions are equal in meaning to the negative locative/existential and possessive clauses discussed above. Both forms *sing* and *singze* can be used interchangeably. As illustrated with the existential constructions in (48), the negative verb replaces the existential verb stem. In Miestamo’s (2005) definition, this would thus be an asymmetric construction.

- (48) a. putti-li ni ak-kué
 pot-INE water INE-exist
 ‘There is water in the pot.’
 b. putti-li ni ak-singze
 pot-INE water INE-NEG.EX
 ‘There is no water in the pot.’

In locative constructions, *sing(ze)* is only found in the negation of clauses with the existential verb *kual* ~ *kue* (see example (42)) or locative verbs containing

the root *te*, as in example (49). The locative verb *te* is typically used for three dimensional objects or animates in a sitting position.¹⁹

- (49) a. *ẽ kaloká-k i-té*
DEM chair-LOC LOC.APPL-sit
'He is sitting on the chair.'
b. *ẽ kaloká-k i-sĩngze*
DEM chair-LOC LOC.APPL-NEG.EX
'He is not sitting on the chair.'

Clauses that involve other locative verbs (e.g. *pa* 'lie (flat objects)' or *sha* 'lie (long objects)') are negated by adding the existential verb and a standard negator, as shown in (50b).

- (50) a. *plato mesa-k i-pa*
plate table-LOC LOC.APPL-lie
'The plate is on the table.'
b. *plato mesa-k i-pa-kual-a-kí*
plate table-LOC LOC.APPL-lie-exist-ST-NEG.IPFV
'The plate is not on the table.'

Finally, the negative verb also occurs in predicative possession, where it is equal in meaning to verbs negated with major negation markers. That is, the affirmative clause in (46a) may also be negated as shown in (51). In these contexts, *sĩng(ze)* is neutral in terms of aspectual meaning, i.e. the situation presented in (51) may be interpreted both as temporary (present/ imperfective) or as more permanent (habitual). As noted above, the negative existential *sĩng(ze)* is part of the SN construction as well. Generally, its uses and polysemy patterns follow well known cross-linguistic tendencies to encode absence and unavailability, see Veselinova 2013.

- (51) *puelta nisĩng*
puelta na-i-sĩng
money 1SG.II-LOC.APPL-NEG.EX
'I don't have any money (on me right now).'

¹⁹In addition to the notion of sitting, *te* also occurs in *akté* 'stand (upright)' (negated: *aksĩng*) and *agaté* 'lean on' (negated: *agasĩng*). With persons, *te* can also denote 'be located' without information about posture (e.g. in 'he is in the village.').

2.4 Negation in dependent clauses

In general, dependent clauses (i.e. relative, complement and most adverbial clauses) feature the same negation markers as found in standard negation. Exceptions are negative purpose clauses and negative circumstantial clauses, as exemplified below.

The use of major negation markers in dependent clauses is illustrated here by adverbial clauses, which are introduced by a subordinating verbal affix expressing the temporal or causal relation between events. In the temporal adverbial clause (in brackets) in (52), the negation marker *-kí* attaches to the lexical verb *tũ* ‘watch’ in a periphrastic construction. The affirmative counterpart of the adverbial clause, i.e. (52b), can be synthetic or periphrastic.

- (52) a. [tũakí nokenki] ezua sukkua biciletak nak
 tũ-a-kí nok-éng-ki ezua sukkua bicileta-k nak
 watch-ST-NEG.IPFV AUX.IPFV-SIM-TOP INDF boy bicycle-LOC arrive
 ‘While he isn’t watching, a boy on a bicycle arrives.’
 b. tũ-ĩ nok-eng-ki / tũ-a-tok-éng-ki sukkua nak
 watch-IPFV₂ be-SIM-TOP / watch-ST-PROG-SIM-TOP boy arrive
 ‘While he is watching, the boy arrives.’

While there are dedicated subordinating morphemes that denote simultaneity and succession, the notion of anteriority (‘before’) is expressed with a simultaneous adverbial clause involving the phasal polarity marker *-gánga* ‘not yet’, as in (53):

- (53) [huk nagaganga noguéng] níkala zekalá
 hu-k nak-a-gánga nok-ngu-éng níkala zek-a-ná
 house-LOC arrive-ST-not.yet AUX.IPFV-PST-SIM rain happen-ST-INCEP
 ‘It started raining before s/he arrived at home.’ (lit. ‘S/he still hadn’t arrived at home...’)

Note that constructional (a)symmetries in dependent clauses that take major negation markers are determined by the negative construction, as introduced in Sections §2.1.1 to §2.1.3 above (e.g. imperfective constructions with *-ĩ* as in (52) are asymmetrical).

There are two types of purpose clauses. Purpose of motion (e.g. ‘I’m going to the river in order to do laundry.’) is expressed by a non-finite verb marked with *-l*. These non-finite predicates cannot be negated. Other purpose clauses involve an unmarked lexical verb in combination with an auxiliary marked with *-amak*, as the one in (54).

- (54) nahí sukkuakũẽ colegioli nẽ akualiamak hiba atshikuge
 nahí sukkuak-kũẽ colegio-ni nẽ a-gu-a-lí-amak hiba
 1SG.POSS child-PL school-ALL go 3PL.I-AUX.PFV-ST-FUT-PURP work
 atshi-ka-uge
 do-HAB-1SG.I
 ‘I work so that my children can go to school.’

In the negative counterpart of finite purpose clauses, the uninflectable particle *guakua* is used in combination with an imperfective form of the lexical verb. Even though *guakua* possibly comprises the verb *gu* ‘do’, it is considered a particle as it does not allow for any person or tense/aspect marking. Given the different forms of the lexical verb and the use of a particle instead of an auxiliary, the construction is clearly asymmetrical, as exemplified in (55).

- (55) a. hugaké akiónuge shentá hulunĩ guakua
 hugaké akió#ne-uge shentá huldun-ĩ guakua
 door close#PST-1SG.I chicken enter-IPFV₂ NEG.PURP
 ‘I closed the door so that the chickens would not enter.’
 b. séngaba nẽgua, mapenĩ guakua
 séngaba nẽ-gua ma-pen-ĩ guakua
 slowly walk-IMP.SG 2SG.II-fall-IPFV₂ NEG.PURP
 ‘Walk slowly, so you don’t fall.’

The negation marker *-gabba* that is found in prohibitive and negative optative mood is also used in negative circumstantial clauses, as the ones in (56–57). These clauses express that an event takes place without (or instead of) the occurrence of another event.

- (56) stugagabba zuketa
 zĩ-tuk-a-gabba zuketa
 ANTIP-drink-ST-NEG pass.by
 ‘He goes by without drinking.’

- (57) eka ziligagabbaki hiúngulak me ně kakungeniki hoklék
 eka zĩ-nik-a-gabba-ki hiungula-k me ně
 DEM ANTIP-SOW-ST-NEG-TOP road-LOC only go
 ka-gu-ngu-eni-ki hokldék
 1PL.I-AUX.PFV-REM.PST-SEQ-TOP play
 ‘Instead of sowing there [on the field], we just went up to the road and played.’

Affirmative equivalents of examples (56) and (57) would imply the realization of two successive events which are expressed by temporal adverbial clauses (similar to the one in (45)). As such clauses differ from the ones in (56) and (57) in several respects (e.g. in person indexing, which is not possible on the forms with *-gabba*), the constructions can be regarded as asymmetrical.

3 Non-clausal negation

In contrast to clausal negation, negation in the non-clausal domain is considerably less complex in Kogi. In what follows, the properties of negative replies (§3.1.) and negative indefinite pronouns (§3.2.) are discussed. Finally, §3.3 an abessive construction with the meaning ‘without’.

3.1 Negative replies

Polar questions, i.e. questions that seek either affirmation or denial, are answered by particles that convey the polarity of the intended answer. In this regard, the system can be classified as a yes/no system, which is the most widely attested type cross-linguistically (see Moser 2018; Sadock & Zwicky 1985).

A polar question is answered affirmatively by *akze* ‘yes’ or the interjection *aha* [ʔa’ha], and negatively by *no* ‘no’ (most likely a loan from Spanish) or interjections with falling intonation *mh mh* [ʔmʔm], *ah ah* [ʔáʔà]. In addition, the Spanish loan *nada* ‘nothing’ is employed as an emphatic negative particle with the meaning ‘no way / anything but’ (see (32) above). In both negative and affirmative answers, the particle or interjection can be used on its own, but more commonly it is complemented by a repetition of the questioned proposition or some other kind of statement, as in (58).

- (58) Q: ekí sigí na mawatũne nagabẽne nala shina?
 ekí sigí na ma-a-tũ#ne nak-a-bẽ#ne nal-a
 DEM man with 2SG.II-3PL.I-see#PST 1SG.III-3PL.I-tell#PST be-ST
 shi-nal
 ADDR.SYM-be
 ‘They told me they saw you together with a man. Is that so?’
 A: no shãbbial nuka nẽnuge nzha
 no zĩ-habbi-a-l nuka nẽ#ne-uge ni-nal
 no ANTIP-buy-ST-PURP only go#PST-1SG.I SPKR.SYM-be
 ‘No, I just went to buy [something].’

A negative reply negates the propositional content of the question, rather than its polarity. Thus, with the negative answer to the question in (59), speaker B negates the proposition (that he went) and thereby affirms speaker A’s assumption (that he didn’t go).

- (59) Q: José-María Santa Marta-ldi nẽya-zhá#ne?
 José-María Santa Marta-ALL go-NEG#PST
 ‘Didn’t José-María go to Santa Marta?’
 A: ahah, nẽy-a-zhá#ne nak-ldá
 no go-ST-NEG#PST SPKR.ASYM-be
 ‘No, he didn’t go.’

There are no polarity-reversing particles and the polarity of a negative question as in (53) is simply negated with an affirmative particle.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Indefinite pronouns of the three ontological categories ‘person’, ‘thing’ and ‘time’, which occur in affirmative clauses are presented in Table 6. To express indefinite reference to persons, Kogi makes use of the numeral *ezua* ‘one’. For things, the noun *hika* ‘thing’ or the contrastive interrogative pronoun *maile* ‘which one’ (typically in contexts of free choice) are used. With the exception of *maile* ‘which one’, all of these forms can be used pronominally, as a phrasal head, and also as a nominal modifier. *Maile*, by contrast, can only function as a modifier.

The base of negative indefinite pronouns are interrogative pronouns, which are combined with either of two additive focus particles, namely *hiega* ‘too, also’ or *ni* ‘even’. The former occurs in affirmative contexts, while the latter is exclusive to negative contexts where it co-occurs with verbal negation.

Table 6: Indefinite and interrogative pronouns

category	indefinite	negative indefinite	interrogative
person	<i>ezua</i> ‘someone, some’	<i>ni me / me hiega</i> ‘no one’	<i>me</i> ‘who’
thing	<i>hika, maile</i> ‘some-thing, some’	<i>ni hi / hi hiega</i> ‘nothing’	<i>hi</i> ‘what’
time	<i>atshuák</i> ‘sometime’	<i>ni mitsák / mitsák hiega</i> ‘never’	<i>mitsák</i> ‘when’

While both variants of a negative indefinite pronoun, e.g. *ni me* and *me hiega* ‘no one’, are used interchangeably, there can be speaker-dependent preferences for either of the forms. Negative indefinite pronouns consist of two phonological words: Forms with *ni* do not undergo the word-internal, morphophonological process of *m* → *b* (e.g. **nibe*). As for forms with *hiega*, each component retains its own stress.

As shown in (60–61), negative indefinite pronouns are always used together with verbal negation marking. In this respect, Kogi belongs to the cross-linguistically most widespread type where negative indefinites and clausal negation obligatorily co-occur (Haspelmath 1997: 202). The non-negative set cannot occur in negative clauses.

- (60) a. *ezua nak#le*
 INDF arrive#PST
 ‘Someone arrived.’
 b. *ni me nak-a-zhá#ne*
 ADD who arrive-ST-NEG#PST
 ‘No one arrived.’
- (61) *nahí gamá mani hiega nak-zal-a-zhá*
 1SG.POSS bag where ADD 1SG.III-be-ST-NEG
 ‘I didn’t find my bag anywhere.’

As for quantifiers, the set of forms such as *nuk* ‘all’, *azbuáng* ‘some’ and *nōwa* ‘few’ does not include dedicated negative counterparts. That is, the same forms occur in affirmative and negated clauses.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

As for negative derivation or case marking, no strategies are attested. The notion of abessive is conveyed by verbal constructions involving major negation markers, as in (62–63).

- (62) sapatu nalakí nēkuge
sapatu nal-a-kí nē-ka-uge
shoe be-ST-NEG.IPFV walk-PRS-1SG.I
'I'm walking without shoes.' (lit. 'There are no shoes, I am walking.')
- (63) Mariaki pulazhá zúkane
María-ki pul-a-zhá zĩ-nuk-a#ne
María-TOP burn-ST-NEG ANTIP-cook-ST#PST
'María cooked without getting burnt.' (lit. 'She cooked and didn't get burnt.')

4 Other aspects of negation

This section discusses some morphosyntactic, semantic and pragmatic phenomena that are connected to negation but do not constitute negative expressions per se. Note, however, that these areas need further research for a detailed description, as my corpus does not include data that account for every topic of the questionnaire by Miestamo (2025).

4.1 Scope of negation

In order to narrow the scope of negation on a specific constituent, the focus particle *na* can be used in the same way as in affirmative clauses. This is exemplified in (64). The focused element is fronted and typically made prosodically more prominent by intensity or pitch.

- (64) a. Pedro na mebák nak#ne
Pedro FOC yesterday arrive#PST
'Pedro arrived yesterday.'
- b. Pedro na mebák nak-a-zhá#ne
Pedro FOC yesterday arrive-ST-NEG#PST
'Pedro didn't arrive yesterday.'

- c. mebák na Pedro nak-a-zhá#ne
 yesterday FOC Pedro arrive-ST-NEG#PST
 ‘Pedro didn’t arrive yesterday.’

4.2 Negative polarity

As for negative polarity items, with the exception of the additive focus particle *ni* (see §3.2), I have not encountered any expressions that exclusively occur in negative contexts.

4.3 Marking of noun phrases in the scope of negation

Case marking of noun phrases in negative clauses is the same as in affirmative clauses. With regard to determiners, the indefinite article *ezua* (cf. *ezua* ‘one’) is not used in negative clauses, as shown in (65). As noted in §3.2., there are no special determiners that occur in negative clauses, rather the same ones as in affirmatives are used.

- (65) a. Marta-hã ezua zhentá habbi#ne
 Marta-ERG INDF chicken buy#PST
 ‘Marta bought a chicken.’
 b. Marta-hã zhentá habbi-a-zhá#ne
 Marta-ERG chicken buy-ST-NEG#PST
 ‘Marta didn’t buy any chicken.’

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The verbal marker *-shã* can be used to put emphasis in a statement. It occurs in affirmative as well as negated clauses, as illustrated in (66). Note that *-shã* does not attach to the form inflected for tense and negation, but to the auxiliary *nal* (‘be’), which is required for the use of the emphasis marker.

- (66) a. keiga-ki hiba atsh-a-zhá-likue
 today-TOP work do-ST-NEG-FUT:1SG.I
 ‘I won’t work today.’
 b. keiga-ki hiba atsh-a-zhá-likue nal-a-shã
 today-TOP work do-ST-NEG-FUT:1SG.I AUX-ST-EMPH
 ‘I won’t work today!’

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

There are no dedicated negative coordinators. Rather negative clauses each have negation marking on the respective predicate, as in the example in (67).

- (67) a-haba akkue-zhá a-hate akkue-zhá
 3SG.INAL-mother remember-NEG 3SG.INAL-father remember-NEG
 ‘He didn’t remember his mother nor his father.’

Note also, that negation markers may not scope over more than one predicate. As shown in (68) each of the coordinated predicates is marked for negation.

- (68) colegio-li ně-ya-zhá hiba atsh-a-zhá gu-a-líka
 school-ALL go-ST-NEG work do-ST-NEG AUX.PFV-ST-FUT
 ‘S/he won’t go to school nor work.’

5 Summary

Negation in Kogi shows particular complexity in the clausal domain. There is a set of major negation markers that are used in all declarative main clauses depending on the aspectual value. These also occur in stative predications, and most dependent and non-declarative clauses. Table 7 summarizes the various attested negation markers as well as their contexts of use.

Table 7: Summary of negation markers

Marker		Environment
<i>zhá</i>	NEG	Perfective aspect; past and future tense, non-modal and modal
<i>kí</i>	NEG.IPFV	Imperfective aspect; past, present and future tense; non-modal and modal
<i>ne</i>	NEG.HAB	Habitual aspect; past, present and future tense; non-modal and modal
<i>sĩng(ze)</i>	NEG.EX	Obligative, potential, volitive modality
<i>sĩng(ze)</i>	NEG.EX	Abilitive modality, locative clauses, predicative possession
<i>sĩng(ze)</i>	NEG.EX	Existential clauses
<i>gabba</i>	NEG	Prohibitive, optative, circumstantial clauses
<i>gánga</i>	‘not yet’	Perfective or imperfective aspect; past, present and future tense
<i>ksá</i>	‘no longer’	Imperfective aspect; past, present and future tense

In Table 8, the constructions discussed in the course of the paper are summarized and their categorization in terms of constructional and paradigmatic symmetry is given. For each asymmetrical construction or paradigm, the differences between the affirmative and negative domains are indicated.²⁰ The most common asymmetry in constructional terms concerns the loss of one marker when a negative marker is used. Negation may further induce a change in person marking, either an alternation of the position of indexes or the loss thereof.

Paradigmatic asymmetry often involves a reduction of distinctions, more precisely with regard to aspect (i.e. imperfective), number or modality (in negation with *-sing(ze)*).

HC: @LSP
please take a
look at this ta-
ble, it should
be only one
table split on
two pages be-
cause there is
too much

²⁰Note that the table does not include non-main clauses. This is due to two reasons. Firstly, in most dependent clauses (e.g. temporal adverbial), the relation in terms of symmetry depends on the type of negation marker in each case. That is, clauses with perfective aspect take *-zhá* which is a symmetric construction, while imperfective adverbial clauses are negated with *-kí*, which typically implies asymmetry. Secondly, negative purpose and circumstantial clauses cannot explicitly be categorized due to the lack of relevant examples in the data corpus. While it was noted that the constructions can be considered asymmetrical, further research is required for a categorization in terms of paradigmatic symmetry.

Table 8: Summary of constructional and paradigmatic (a)symmetries

(a) First part

Types of clauses	Construction	Paradigm
Past <i>ne</i> (PFV)	sym	sym
Past (PFV)		
• synthetic	sym	No negated form
• periphrastic	sym	sym
Future (PFV)	sym	sym
Imperfective <i>-i, -té</i>	Loss of IPFV marker	Loss of IPFV distinctions
Imperfective <i>-tok</i>	Loss of person/tense marker	Loss of IPFV distinctions
Present/habitual <i>-ka</i>		
• habitual context	Loss of PRS/ HAB marker, change of person indexes	sym
• present context	Loss of PRS/HAB marker	sym
Obligative		
• major NEG	sym	sym
• <i>-sing(ze)</i>	Loss of OBLIG marker	Loss of MOD distinctions
Volitive		
• major NEG	sym	sym
• <i>-sing(ze)</i>	Loss of VOL marker	Loss of MOD distinctions
Potential		
• major NEG	sym	sym
• Loss of POT and person marker	Loss of MOD distinctions	

(b) Second part

Types of clauses	Construction	Paradigm
Abilitive		
• major NEG	sym	sym
• <i>sing(ze)</i>	Replacement of stem	sym
Optative		
• non-second person	sym	Additional person distinction (2 / non-2)
• second person	Loss of OPT marker	Additional person distinction (2 / non-2)
Imperative	Loss of IMP marker	Loss of NUM distinction
Interrogative	sym	sym
Proper inclusion, equation	sym	sym
Indep. Adjectives	sym	sym
Dep. Adjectives	sym	sym
Existential		
• major NEG	sym	sym
• <i>sing(ze)</i>	Replacement of stem	sym
Locative		
• major NEG	sym	sym
• <i>sing(ze)</i>	Replacement of stem	Restricted to <i>te</i> 'sit'
Possessive		
• major NEG	sym	sym
• <i>sing(ze)</i>	Replacement of stem	sym

Abbreviations

#	anticlititic boundary	INE	inessive
1	first person	IPFV	imperfective
2	second person	LOC	locative
3	third person	NEG	negative
I	set I argument marker (A)	OBLIG	obligative modality
II	set II argument marker (P)	OPT	optative
III	set III argument marker (G)	PFV	perfective
ADD	additive focus	PL	plural
ADDR	addressee epistemic authority	POSS	possessive
ALL	allative	POT	potential
ANTIP	antipassive	PROG	progressive
APPL	applicative	PROH	prohibitive
AUX	auxiliary	PRS	present
ASYM	asymmetrical epistemic access	PST	past
CAUS	causative	PURP	purposive
COP	copula	Q	question
DEM	demonstrative	REC	recent
EMPH	emphatic	REM	remote
ERG	ergative	SEQ	temporal sequence
EX	existential	SG	singular
FOC	focus	SIM	simultaneous
FUT	future	SPKR	speaker epistemic authority
HAB	habitual	ST	stem forming vowel
HOD	hodiernal	SUB	subordinate clause
IMP	imperative	SYM	symmetrical epistemic access
INAL	inalienable possession	TOP	topic
INCEP	inceptive	VOL	volitional
INDF	indefinite article		

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Negation in Yukuna

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This study provides an overview of negation in Yukuna, an Arawak language of Colombian Amazonia. Yukuna has two main negation strategies, Standard Negation (*unká...-la*) and non-verbal negation (*unká...kalé*), that perfectly map onto the verbal versus non-verbal clause distinction in the language. The same markers used in these two strategies cover most domains of negation, from polar questions, non-declaratives, non-main clauses and constituent negation. However, despite the homogeneity of markers, negation in main declarative verbal clauses is symmetric, while negation in non-main and non-finite clauses displays various types of constructional asymmetry. The most frequent type of asymmetry concerns the marking of finiteness in affirmatives versus negatives, with the particularity that in Yukuna, it is the affirmative clause that is overtly marked for nominalization, and hence, shows reduced finiteness in comparison with the corresponding negative, unmarked for nominalization. The marking of negation is thus strongly intertwined with finiteness and the verbal versus non-verbal distinction, two central issues that crosscut the grammar of the language.

Keywords: Arawak, non-verbal predication, finiteness, subordination

1 Introduction

Yukuna (ISO: **ycn**, Glottocode: **yucu1253**) is a North-Amazonian Arawakan language spoken by under one thousand speakers in various communities along the Miriti-Parana river in South Eastern Colombia. The Yukuna language is spoken by the Yukuna and Matapí groups, who are in intense, long-term contact with the Tanimuka (Tukanoan) speaking groups Tanimuka and Letuama. This study is based on ongoing work on the Yukuna language by the first author.¹ Ty-

¹The Yukuna documentation and description project is led by the first author (Lemus Serrano), under the supervision of the second author (Rose). The first author carried out data collection and annotation, extracted and analyzed the data on negation, and wrote the first manuscript of this chapter. The second author provided critical feedback on the analysis of the data on negation, and contributed to the final version of the manuscript.

pologically, Yukuna is a nominative-accusative language with a canonical SVO constituent order. The lexical word classes are nouns, verbs, adverbs, adjectives, and postpositions. Core arguments are not case-marked, and obliques (henceforth OBL) are marked with postpositions. The nominative argument of verbs (henceforth S) is obligatorily encoded in finite clauses either with a bound person index on the verb, or by an overt S NP rigidly placed immediately before the verb. This marking strategy is identical to the encoding of possessors of nouns, and arguments of postpositions. The accusative argument of verbs (henceforth P) is neither obligatorily encoded, nor indexed on the verb, and its placement within the clause is flexible. The main encoding properties of S, P and obliques are summarized in Table 1.²

Table 1: Argument encoding features

	Indexation	Role marking	Word order
S	Yes	No	[SV]
P	No	No	[SV] P ~ P [SV]
OBL	No	Yes	[SV] OBL ~ OBL [SV]

All examples come from firsthand data collected in various Yukuna speaking communities between 2015 and 2018. The corpus contains roughly five hours of transcribed and translated texts, from which we extracted approximately 300 instances of negation marking of various types. The examples are transcribed with a slightly modified version of the practical alphabet used in the Yukuna dictionary (Schauer et al. 2005), based on Spanish.³ High tone is transcribed with an acute accent, but its surface manifestation is very variable, so the same morpheme may be transcribed with or without an accent depending on the context (e.g. past tense *-cha* is found in examples both as *-cha* and as *-chá*). Lastly, each example contains a source given in brackets indicating the name of its audio file, and the ELAN/Flex line. Examples taken from elicitation come from the first author’s field notes, and their source is indicated with the notebook and page number.

²We use the P label for the accusative argument of transitive verbs, but for practical purposes, we use O when in reference to the typology of word order.

³The following alphabetic conventions are used: <j> /h/, <ñ> /ɲ/, <y> /j/, <V’> /V̥/ (creaky vowel), <Ch> /C^h/ (aspirated plosive), <jC> /C̥/ (voiceless sonorant)

2 Clausal negation

This section is dedicated to the description of various clause-level negation strategies. Here as in the rest of the chapter, each negation strategy is described according to the guidelines and terminology used in Miestamo (2005, 2025, 2017).

2.1 Standard negation

Negation in declarative main verbal clauses, or Standard Negation (SN), is encoded with a pre-verbal particle *unká* and a verbal suffix *-la*. The negation particle *unká* is phonologically free and morphologically simple in main clauses, which differs from its behavior in some subordinate clauses (§2.4). The negation suffix *-la* obligatorily co-occurs with the pre-verbal particle in SN. Therefore, in terms of number of markers and their position with respect to the verb, Yukuna is classed among the type of languages with obligatory double negation (Neg[V-Neg]) in Dryer (2013a). Example (1) illustrates an affirmative transitive declarative clause with an overt S NP and a pronominal P NP. Example (2) shows a negative transitive verbal clause, and illustrates the prototypical position of negative markers in SN.

- (1) Kája ri=pirá nó-cha ri=ikhá.
 already 3SG.NF=pet kill-PST 3SG.NF=PRO
 ‘His pet already killed him.’ [ycn0053,33]
- (2) Unká wa=wáta-la kéelé kujnú.
 NEG 1PL=want-NEG DEM.MED cassava
 ‘We do not want that cassava.’ [ycn0189,177]

The prototypical placement of the particle *unká* within the clause is after sentence connectors and before the S NP, which typically immediately precedes the verb. This negator can be described as a clause-initial (before all arguments) particle, non-adjacent to the verb. In terms of the relative position of negators with respect to the verb and its arguments, Yukuna belongs to the NegS[V-Neg]O type (type 8) among languages with canonical SVO word order in the typology in Dryer (2013b). The only exceptions to this word order are attested in the focalization of core arguments, where either the S or P NPs are exceptionally placed before the particle *unká*, as in (3). Despite these variations in word order, there are important restrictions concerning the placement of arguments that apply in negative as well as in affirmative polarity (see §3.2 on the placement of indefinite pro-forms).

- (3) É na=apó-chi-ya=o phiyúké, ri=ikhá **unká**
 then 3PL=wake_up-CAUS-PST=MID all 3SG.NF=PRO NEG
 após-la-cha.
 wake_up-NEG-PST
 ‘Then they all woke up, (but) *he* did not wake up.’ [ycn0189,67]

The negation suffix *-la* is placed after valency markers and before tense. This suffix is compatible with almost all inflectional markers of finite verbs. However, crucially, *-la* is placed in the same paradigmatic position as clausal nominalizers *-ka* EV.NMLZ, and *-kare* PART.NMLZ, as well as with the past imperfective suffixes *-khe* and *-jika*.⁴ This paradigmatic position of the negative suffix *-la* affects the encoding of negation in all contexts involving markers within the same slot, and leads to multiple instances of asymmetries in non-declarative (see §2.2), and subordinate clauses (see §2.4). In main clauses, the use of the past imperfective suffix *-khe* requires negation to be encoded exclusively with *unká* as in (4). Note that suffix *-khe* is found in affirmative clauses as well (5), and it is thus not a portman-teau negative marker as suggested in Michael (2014).⁵

- (4) **Unká** na=amá-khe kéelé kájé itewí ri=wakajé.
 NEG 3PL=see-PST.IPFV DEM.MED type palm_species 3SG.NF=time
 ‘They did not use to see that type of palm trees at that time.’ [ycn0108,149]
- (5) na=nó-khe wa=jló kuwajári, ye’é ...
 3PL=kill-PST.IPFV 1PL=for rodent_species armadillo
 ‘they used to kill for us pacas, armadillos...’ [ycn0117,80]

In sum, negative declarative verbal clauses have the same word order and argument encoding as affirmative clauses, and hence, they are structurally symmetric. Additionally, the presence of SN markers does not affect the marking of grammatical categories in any way. The paradigms of grammatical markers available in both SN and affirmative declarative verbal clauses are thus symmetric as well.

⁴These past imperfective suffixes are both very likely diachronically related to nominalizer *-ka*. However, while *-khe* appears to have grammaticalized as a main clause marker, more data is needed to assess the synchronic features of *-jika*. See §4.6.4 for a diachronic account of the negation system.

⁵This erroneous description of the past imperfective suffix is likely due to the ambiguous phrasing in Schauer et al. (2005: 314), where the authors suggest that the negative suffix *-la* is replaced by *-khe* in the past imperfective.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

This section provides an overview of negation in various types of non-declarative moods and speech acts.

2.2.1 Negative imperatives

Yukuna has a dedicated prohibitive construction with suffix *-niña*. This strategy differs from the second person imperative construction as the latter receives no overt imperative marking. However, they both require the verb to be unmarked for TAM, the S argument to be encoded with a person index, and the P argument to be postverbal. Prohibitives are then both constructionally and paradigmatically symmetric with respect to second person imperatives. Examples (6–7) illustrate the affirmative imperative and prohibitive constructions respectively.

- (6) Pi=ajñá ri=ikhá!
 2SG=eat 3SG.NF=PRO
 ‘Eat that!’ [ycn0068,149]
- (7) Pi=ajñá-**niña** ri=ikhá!
 2SG=eat-**PROH** 3SG.NF=PRO
 ‘Don’t eat that!’ [ycn0108,41]

The prohibitive clearly differs from the SN construction *unká...-la* (§2.1), but it is symmetric with the imperative construction. Hence, Yukuna can be said to belong to the type II in the typology of [van der Auwera & Lejeune \(with Valentin Goussev\) \(2013\)](#), among languages where the prohibitive uses the same verbal form as second singular imperative and a sentential negative strategy not found in indicative declaratives.

2.2.2 Negative interrogatives

Affirmative polar questions in Yukuna are encoded with a construction using an interrogative particle copula *é* plus a nominalized verb form with suffix *-ka* EV.NMLZ (8).⁶ This construction is identical to polar questions with non-verbal predicates as in (9).

⁶The interrogative particle *é* is homonymous with the postposition *é* ‘at’, the sentence connector *é* ‘then’ and the temporal adverbial subordinator *é*.

- (8) É pi=jĩ'-chá-ka jíña?
 Q 2SG=grab-PST-EV.NMLZ fish
 'Did you grab fish?' [ycn0108,139]
- (9) É palá-ni?
 Q good-NF
 'Is it good?' [ycn0504,51]

In contrast, negative polar questions are encoded by using a finite verb form carrying SN markers *unká...-la* (10). Negative polar questions thus radically differ from their affirmative counterparts (8). The major difference between these constructions lies in the marking of finiteness, with affirmatives using an overtly nominalized verb form, and negatives using a finite verb form.

- (10) Unká pi=amá-la ná iphá-ká=no majõ?
 NEG 2SG=see-NEG INDF arrive-EV.NMLZ=HAB here
 'Haven't you seen who is it that came here?' [ycn0041,52]

Despite the structural difference with affirmative polar questions, negative polar questions do not show any major differences with negative declaratives, which corresponds to the most recurrent cross-linguistic scenario according to the preliminary survey in Miestamo (2009).

2.2.3 Negation in the potential mood

Potential modality in affirmative polarity is often encoded by combining the *intensive* particle *jlá* 'try to' with a nominalized verb form using *-kare* PART.NMLZ as shown in example (11).

- (11) Iná i'jra-káre jlá ri=ikhá.
 GNR.PRO lift-PART.NMLZ INTV 3SG.NF=PRO
 'One can lift it up.' [ycn0053,72]

In the negative polarity, however, Yukuna uses a finite verb carrying the same markers used in SN, obligatorily preceded by an indefinite pro-adverb – most frequently *méla'jé* 'any way', but other pro-adverbs are found in this function as well – as in (12). The intensive particle *jlá* is optional in the negative.

- (12) Unká méla'jé pi=i'jna-lá na=jwa'té.
 NEG INDF.manner 2SG=go-NEG 3SG=with
 'You cannot go with them.' (lit. 'You do not go with them in any way.')
- [ycn0063,111]

Similarly to interrogatives, the potential mood shows an asymmetry in the marking of finiteness with nominalized verb forms in the affirmative versus finite verb forms using SN in the negative.

Lastly, this construction only differs structurally from SN in the obligatory use of the negative indefinite. The features of this pro-form are identical to those of other negative indefinites (§3.2). Like other indefinites, the marker in this construction can also be negated through constituent negation, as discussed in (§4.1).

2.3 Negation in stative predications

In Yukuna, all word classes besides verbs can be used predicatively: nouns, adverbs, adjectives and postpositions. These predicates may be encoded through two distinct morphosyntactic strategies: a zero copula construction, and a verbal copula construction, following the terminology of Stassen (1997). The zero copula and verbal copula constructions differ on all grounds, including their strategies of negation marking. The choice of an encoding strategy depends on several criteria: time of reference, polarity and functional subcategory of non-verbal predication.

In the zero copula construction, the non-verbal predicate is placed in clause initial position, followed by its unique argument, with no finite verbal element at all (13). The non-verbal predicate in the zero copula construction is negated with a strategy exclusive to non-verbal constituents, double marked with particle *unká* at the left edge of the predicate, and particle *kalé* at its right edge (14). We refer to this construction as the non-verbal negation strategy. This is the same strategy used in constituent negation described in (§4.1). The non-verbal negation strategy is symmetric on all levels with respect to the affirmative zero copula construction, as the only difference between them is the presence of the negation markers.

- (13) A'jne-jí tá ri=ikhá.
 food-NPOSS EMPH 3SG.NF=PRO
 'It is food.' [ycn0063,144]
- (14) Unká inau'ké kalé nu=ikhá.
 NEG person NVB.NEG 1SG=PRO
 'I am not a person.' [ycn0068,253]

In contrast, in the verbal copula construction, there is an inflecting copula *i'ma~i'mi*, and the single argument is encoded like the S NP in verbal clauses (15).

Non-verbal predicates encoded with the verbal copula construction are negated with the same markers used in SN (*unká...-la*), as in (16). This negation strategy clearly differs from the non-verbal negation strategy in zero copula clauses, but both are double-marked and share a common marker, the negative particle *unká*.

- (15) Inau'ké i'mi-chá.
 person COP-PST
 'There were people.' [ycn0151,2]
- (16) Kája **unká** inau'ké i'ma-lá-cha.
 already **NEG** person COP-V.NEG-PST
 'There were no people anymore.' [ycn0108,77]

The zero copula and verbal copula constructions are used in alternation to encode all six functional types of non-verbal predication, namely, equation, proper inclusion, attributive, locative, existential, and possessive predication. The choice of encoding strategy depends on an interplay between the functional type of non-verbal predication, polarity and time of reference. The preferred encoding strategy (Cop for verbal copula, and Zero for the zero copula constructions) per functional type of non-verbal predication and polarity are summarized in Table 2. In short, in the affirmative, the zero copula construction is the preferred strategy in the present, while the verbal copula construction is the preferred strategy for non-present time of reference. This holds true across all six functional types of non-verbal predication. In the negative polarity, however, there is a distinction between equation, inclusion and attributive predicates on one hand, and locative, existential and possessive predicates on the other. The former group follows the same pattern as in the affirmative polarity, with the zero copula strategy used in the present, and the verbal copula strategy elsewhere. The latter group, however, only uses the verbal copula strategy regardless of time of reference.

Indeed, the pair of affirmative and negative proper inclusion predicates in present tense in (13–14) are both encoded with the zero copula strategy. In contrast, the pair of affirmative and negative existential predicates in present tense in (17–18) show that each polarity is encoded with a different strategy, with the zero copula construction in the affirmative, and the verbal copula (with negative markers *unká...-la*) in the negative.

- (17) Ri=é=ko inau'ké.
 3SG.NF=at=EMPH person
 'There are people there.' [ycn0108,101]

Table 2: Preferred encoding per predication type, polarity and tense

		Affirmative		Negative	
		Present	Non-present	Present	Non-present
Equation	Zero copula	Verbal copula	Zero copula	Verbal copula	
Inclusion					
Attributive					
Location			Verbal copula		
Existential					
Possessive					

- (18) **Unká** kája jápá-kaje i'ma-lá.
 NEG EMPH work-EV.NMLZ COP-V.NEG
 'There is no work.' [ycn0018,13]

In sum, there are two distinct strategies used in the negation of non-verbal predicates: the non-verbal strategy with *unká...kalé*, and the verbal strategy with the copula *i'ma~i'mi* carrying the same markers as in SN (*unká...-la*). The distribution of these strategies depends on an interplay between tense and functional sub-type of non-verbal predication. Crucially, equation, proper inclusion and attributive predicates allow both the non-verbal negation strategy and the verbal copula with SN markers depending on tense, while location, existential and possessive predicates can only be negated with the verbal copula and SN markers.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In this section, we describe the different negation strategies used in the negation of purpose of motion clauses (§2.4.1), adverbial subordinates with subordinator *lojé* (§2.4.2), adverbial subordinates with other subordinators (§2.4.3), and complement clauses of perception verbs (§2.4.4). Negation in other types of subordinate clauses is not discussed, as they are not attested in the corpus of narratives.

2.4.1 Purpose of motion clauses with *-je*

Yukuna uses the verbal suffix *-je* to encode purpose of motion clauses. The verb marked with this suffix lacks all morphosyntactic features of finite main verbs. Crucially, there is no S marking nor tense in the subordinate verb, which is obligatorily understood as sharing the same subject argument and time-frame as

the main clause (19). The resulting construction occupies the role of an oblique argument of the main verb.

- (19) Ri=i'jĩ-chá=no ri=amá-je.
 3SG.NF=go-PST=HAB 3SG.NF=see-PURP.MOT
 'He kept going to see it.' (lit. 'He always went to its seeing.') [ycn0041,12]

The negation of purpose of motion clauses is encoded with the non-verbal negation strategy *unká...kalé* as in (20). This strategy is the same one used in the negation of specific constituents in verbal clauses as in example (21) (see also §4.1).

- (20) Unká kapichá-je=o kalé pi=i'jńá, i'ma-jé i=i'jńá
 NEG die-PURP.MOT=Mid NVB.NEG 2SG=go live-PURP.MOT 2PL=go
 'You go (there) not to die, you go (there) to live.' [ycn0058,28]
- (21) Unká ya'jńáje kalé kháãjĩ-una i'jńá.
 NEG far.towards NVB.NEG DEM.PROX-PL go
 'These ones did not go far.' (lit. 'These ones went not far.') [ycn0108,87]

Negative purpose of motion clauses are thus entirely symmetrical in comparison with their affirmative counterparts, and the negation strategy used is identical to the construction used in the negation of non-verbal constituents.

2.4.2 Purposive clauses with *lojé*

A second type of adverbial subordinate clause in Yukuna are purposive subordinates, encoded with event nominalizer *-ka* and the subordinating particle *lojé*. The event nominalizer *-ka* is used to create clausal nominalizations, used in a variety of subordinating constructions (see also §2.4.3). Nominalizations with *-ka* EV.NMLZ retain many features of finite clauses (core and oblique arguments, tense and aspect marking), while showing non-finite features typical of nominalizations in the language (loss of modality marking, possibility to combine with demonstratives and postpositions) (Lemus Serrano 2020: 242–243). In purposive subordinate clauses, the verb root carrying nominalizer *-ka* is followed by the purposive subordinating particle *lojé* as in (22), and optionally, the entire nominalized clause is followed by the postposition *penáje* 'for' (23).⁷

⁷Subordinating particles have grammaticalized from postpositions, and are in fact synchronically homonymous with postpositions (Lemus Serrano 2020: 306–309).

- (22) Ri=moto'-chá ri=jlú-wa ri=ikhá, ri=ajñá-ká lojé.
 3SG.NF=cook-PST 3SG.NF=for-REFL 3SG.NF=PRO 3SG.NF=eat-EV.NMLZ PURP
 'He cooked that for himself, in order to eat.' [ycn0108,41]
- (23) Ri=ikhá ri=pití-ya=nó na=jló na=ajñá-ká lojé
 3SG.NF=PRO 3SG.NF=take-PST=HAB 3PL=for 3PL=eat-EV.NMLZ PURP
 penáje.
 for
 'He always brought that to them for them to eat.' [ycn0041,39]

Given the shared paradigmatic position between nominalizer *-ka* and negative suffix *-la*, most cases involving this nominalizer affect the encoding of negation. In the case of purposive clauses, negation is encoded with a portmanteau negative purposive subordinator *piyá*, used instead of *lojé* after the nominalized verb with *-ka* as in (24). There are no constructional differences between the negative purposive and its affirmative counterpart.

- (24) Kéchámi wa=la'á piño apú ri=tajná-ka=o piyá.
 then 1PL=do again other 3SG.NF=finish-EV.NMLZ=MID NEG.PURP
 'Then we do another one again for it not to finish.' [ycn0042,75]

2.4.3 Other adverbial subordinates

In addition to purposive clauses with the subordinator *lojé*, Yukuna has several other adverbial subordinate clauses encoded similarly, with nominalizer *-ka* plus a subordinating particle that determines the semantic link between the embedded nominalized clause and the main clause: conditional *chú* (25), cause markers *aú*, *lé*, and *pachá* (26).

- (25) ri=ikhá pi=a'-ká chú na=a'jné ...
 3SG.NF=PRO 2SG=give-EV.NMLZ COND 3PL=food
 'if you give that (to them) as their food...' [ycn0119,28]
- (26) ... kawale'ké wáni ri=i'ma-ká pachá
 greedy EMPH 3SG.NF=COP-EV.NMLZ CAUSE
 'because he is very greedy' [ycn0063,207]

The negation of these clauses is encoded with the same markers used in SN *un-ká...-la*. However, the resulting construction shows some important differences with the affirmative subordinate clause. Firstly, the nominalizer *-ka* used in the

affirmative subordinate is absent from the negative subordinate; and secondly, the subordinator which was placed after the nominalized verb in the affirmative is placed after the negation particle *unká* in the negative, as illustrated in (27–28).

- (27) eyá **unká** chú pi=matha'-lá ka'jónó káru
 then **NEG** COND 2SG=cut-V.**NEG** DUB palm_species
 'if you don't cut uh... the palm leaves...' [ycn0119,27]
- (28) **unká** pachá nu=e'wé tá iphá-lá-cha
NEG CAUSE 1SG=brother EMPH arrive-**NEG**-PST
 'because my brother didn't arrive...' [ycn0108,265]

The asymmetry of this negation strategy with regard to its affirmative counterpart concerns the category of finiteness, with overt nominalizers in the affirmative vs. lack of nominalizing morphology in the negative. The presence of nominalizers has an impact on the degree of finiteness of the lexical verb (reduced in the affirmative with respect to the negative), and leads to structural differences in the placement of subordinating particles in the subordinate clause (verbs with *-la* do not directly combine with postpositions/subordinating particles). However, despite concerning the category of finiteness, the asymmetries identified in Yukuna do not fit into the A/Fin type as defined in Miestamo (2005: 73). Indeed, this label is restricted to the cross-linguistically common cases where the *lexical verb* in declarative main clauses shows reduced finiteness in the negative with respect to the corresponding affirmative.

An additional negation strategy found in adverbial subordinate clauses shows a yet more ambiguous use of the negator *unká*. This is the case in conditional subordinate clauses with event nominalizer *-ka* and subordinator *é*, as shown in (29).

- (29) pi=ka'-jī-ka é kajrú ri=ikhá
 2SG=throw-FUT-EV.NMLZ COND a_lot 3SG.NF=PRO
 'if you throw it a lot...' [ycn0053,101]

The negation of this conditional clause is encoded exclusively with negator *unká*, making this the second negation strategy where *unká* is used without the negation suffix *-la* (see (4) on past imperfective suffix *-khe*). The subordinate verb loses its overt nominalization marking, and unlike the preceding cases, it does not carry the negative suffix *-la*. Lastly, and more interestingly, this construction also involves constructional asymmetry, where some of the morphology carried by the verb in the affirmative, including the subordinating particle *é*, is placed

next to the negator *unká* in the negative (30). This change in the position of the subordinator is attested only in the context of negation, and thus, cannot be attributed to distributional features of the subordinator itself (i.e. the particle does not show features of ‘second position’ markers).

- (30) *unka-jĩ-ka* *é* *nu=iphá*
 NEG-FUT-EV.NMLZ COND 1SG=arrive
 ‘if I don’t arrive ...’ [ycn0053,33]

In sum, the negative adverbial subordinate clauses described in this subsection show important asymmetries with respect to their affirmative counterparts. The asymmetries attested concern the encoding of finiteness, with overt nominalizers in the affirmative, no overt nominalizers in the negative, and a change in the placement of subordinating particles. These asymmetries highlight an important restriction in the encoding of negation, namely, that the negation suffix *-la* shares the same paradigmatic slot with nominalizers like *-ka* EV.NMLZ, used in many subordinate clauses, suggesting that it may have been itself a nominalizer in the past (see §4.6.4).

2.4.4 Complement clauses

The last type of subordinate clauses described here concerns complement clauses of perception verbs. Similarly to other subordinate clauses, including other complement clauses, this type of subordinates are encoded with the event nominalizer *-ka* in affirmative polarity (31). However, unlike other subordinates, the overt marking of nominalization is optional in these complement clauses, leading to many instances of finite subordinate clauses (32).

- (31) *Ri=amí-cha* *kajú* *na=ajĩ-cha-ka*.
 3SG.NF=see-PST a_lot 3PL=fly-PST-EV.NMLZ
 ‘He saw them flying a lot.’ [ycn0041,25]
- (32) *Ru_i=amí-cha* *kajú* *ru_j=apíro’-cha* *tá*.
 3SG.F=see-PST a_lot 3SG.F=suck-PST EMPH
 ‘She_i saw that she_j was eating (it) a lot.’ [ycn0151,86]

These clauses are negated using the same markers as in SN *unká...-la*, and just like in the preceding cases, the nominalizer *-ka* is absent in the negative clause (33). There are no further asymmetries between the affirmative and negative complement clauses, which is, in isolation, structurally identical to a main verbal negative clause.

- (33) É ri=amí-cha, amá-ri **unká** líchi i'ma-lá-cha palá.
Then 3SG.NF=see-PST see-NF **NEG** tobacco COP-**NEG**-PST well
'He looked and saw (that) the tobacco was not well.' [ycn0108,134]

To summarize, in §2.4 we described four different negation strategies used in subordinate clauses. Purpose of motion clauses show no asymmetries between affirmatives and negatives (§2.4.1), purposive clauses (§2.4.2), adverbial subordinate clauses (§2.4.3) and complement clauses (§2.4.4) show various types of asymmetries. The attested asymmetries involve differences in the encoding of finiteness, and in the placement of subordinating particles. Crucially, we show that in the case of some adverbial subordinates, the affirmative clause is overtly nominalized, while the negative one is not, similarly to the asymmetries attested in polar questions (§2.2.2) and potential modality (§2.2.3). This scenario is the opposite of the usual pattern of asymmetry in main declarative verbal clauses (A/Fin) (Miestamo 2005: 75). We lack systematic typological surveys on negation in non-main clauses (Miestamo 2017: 23–24), so it is unclear whether similar scenarios are attested cross-linguistically.

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

No negative lexicalizations used in clausal negation have been identified in Yukuna. Indeed, there are no verbal roots that have merged with negation markers, nor verbs which are negated through a specific construction. Yukuna's SN construction is extremely productive, covering all verbs in the language. The only instance of a lexicalized negative item is the interjection *kaapí*, meaning 'I don't know'.

3 Non-clausal negation

This section describes negative constructions that do not operate at the level of the clause, namely, negative replies to polar questions (§3.1), negative indefinites (§3.2), and lastly, negative derivations (§3.3).

3.1 Negative replies

Negative replies to polar questions use either the same marking as SN with *unká...-la* in full negative replies, or just the negative marker *unká* in one-word replies, or both (34).

- (34) Q: Ná pi=amá=no? é ka'j ná pi=amá-ka inaá-na?
 INDF 2SG=see=HAB Q DUB 2SG=see-EV.NMLZ woman-PL
 'Who did you see? did you see any women?' [ycn0068,165]
- A: Unká nu=jiwaká, unká ná nu=amá-la.
 NEG 1SG=boss NEG INDF 1SG=see-V.NEG
 'No, boss, I haven't seen anyone.' [ycn0068,166]

Affirmative replies to affirmative interrogatives are introduced with *á'a* 'yes'. In the cases where the question is negative itself, affirmative and negative answers are encoded just like in answers to affirmative questions, with *á'a* 'yes' followed by an affirmative clause (35), and *unká* 'no' followed by a negative clause (36). Answers to negative questions thus express agreement or disagreement over the propositional content of the question and not its polarity, unlike polarity reversing particles (Holmberg 2015, Enfield et al. 2019).

- (35) a. É pi=amí-cha-ka apa'wélo nu=e'we-ló?
 Q 2SG=see-PST-EV.NMLZ other.F 1SG=sibling-F
 'Did you see my other sister?' [ycn0068,234]
- b. "á'a" ké ri=ímí-cha, "kája nu=amí-cha ru=ikhá".
 yes like 3SG.NF=say-PST already 1SG=see-PST 3SG.F=PRO
 'He said "yes, I've already seen her".' [ycn0068,234]
- (36) a. Unká pi=i'ma-lá wa=yukú-ná pi=jiwaká tá Kanumá jló?
 NEG 2SG=tell-NEG 1PL=story-AL 2SG=boss EMPH K. to
 'Didn't you tell our story to your boss Kanumá?' [ycn0068,199]
- b. Unká nu=laké-lo, náje nu=i'má i=yukú-ná?
 NEG 1SG=grandchild-F INDF.reason 1SG=tell 2PL=story-AL
 'No, granddaughter, why would I tell your story?' [ycn0068,200]

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Yukuna has one paradigm of indefinite pro-forms, including pronouns and pro-adverbs, that share similar functional and distributional features. These pro-forms include three different roots (*ná* 'nothing, nobody', *náje* 'no reason', *mé* 'no way'), and several morphologically complex forms based on pro-adverbial root *mé* as summarized in Table 3.

Functionally, these forms are used as interrogative pro-forms (37) similarly to the English *wh* series, and as indefinites in negative clauses (38), similarly

Table 3: Indefinite pro-forms in Yukuna

Form	Meaning
<i>ná</i>	nothing/nobody/who/what
<i>náje</i>	no reason/why
<i>méré</i>	nowhere/where
<i>méño'jó</i>	toward nowhere/toward where
<i>méké</i>	no way/how

to the English negative indefinites with *no* (e.g. *nobody*). When used in negative clauses, these pro-forms are exclusively used in combination with overt negation markers, whether SN as in (38) or with non-verbal negation *unká...kalé* in non-verbal predicates or in constituent negation (39) (see §4.1).

- (37) *Ná pi=la'á?*
 INDF 2SG=do
 'What are you doing?' [ycn0063,31]
- (38) *Unká ná pi=la'-lá.*
 NEG INDF 2SG=do-V.NEG
 'You don't do anything.' [ycn0117,97]
- (39) *Unká mére=ewá kalé nu=ata'á i=pirá.*
 NEG INDF.LOC=around NVB.NEG 1SG=steal 2PL=pet
 'Nowhere did I steal your pet.' [ycn0068,43]

Indefinite pro-forms show a restricted distribution in contrast to personal and demonstrative pro-forms. In negative verbal clauses, they are always pre-verbal even when encoding the P argument (38) or an oblique argument (40), although both of these constituents are canonically placed in post-verbal position. With respect to negation markers, indefinite pro-forms are placed after the negator *unká* and before either the subject NP if there is one, or the verb carrying a S person index. Besides emphatic discourse markers, they are the only elements that can be placed in this position.

- (40) *Unká ná jló nu=yuí-la-je ri=ikhá.*
 NEG INDF to 1SG=leave-V.NEG-FUT 3SG.NF=PRO
 'I will not leave it to anyone.' [ycn0092,117]

In addition to the interrogative and negative uses of these pro-forms, they are also found in contexts of hesitation (41), exemplification (42), or exclamation (43). Crucially, however, they are not found in contexts typical of the so-called *negative polarity* indefinites such as polar questions (e.g. ‘Did *anyone* come?’), conditionals (e.g. ‘If *anyone* comes’), the standard of comparison (e.g. ‘better than *anyone*’), indirect negation (e.g. ‘I don’t think *anyone* will come’), nor as free choice indefinites (e.g. ‘You can do *anything*’) (Haspelmath 1997: 37–53).

- (41) Iná ako’ó ri=ikhá ná chojé ka’jné? ... galón chojé ka’jné
 GNR.PRO pour 3SG.NF=PRO INDF into DUB barrel into DUB
 iná ako’ó ri=ikhá.
 GNR.PRO pour 3SG.NF=PRO
 ‘One pours it into what already? ... one pours it into an oil barrel.’
 [ycn0117,30]
- (42) Wa=ajña wa=a’jne-wá, ná kujnú ka’jné, jña ka’jné ...
 1PL=eat 1PL=food-REFL INDF cassava DUB fish DUB
 ‘We eat our food, like cassava, or maybe fish...’ [ycn0042,4]
- (43) Méké palá wani!
 INDF.manner good EMPH
 ‘How good!’ [ycn0089,69]

The only clear-cut instances of an indefinite pronoun used in declarative affirmative clauses is the complex form *nákájé* ‘something’ (44).⁸ There are no instances in which the indefinite pro-forms used in negation are found in affirmative declarative clauses with a meaning similar to the *some-* series in English as would be expected of so called *neutral* indefinites (van der Auwera & Alsenoy 2018). Indeed, in order to refer to indefinite humans in affirmative clauses, the generic noun *inau’ké* ‘person’ is used (45). There is a generic pronoun *iná* ‘one’, but its meaning is collective, rather than indefinite.

- (44) [...] ri=jña’á ri=jló-wa nákájé [...]
 3SG.NF=grab 3SG.NF=for-REFL something
 ‘[...] he grabbed something for himself [...]’ [ycn0092,142]
- (45) Ê ru=amí-cha amí-cha-ri pajlúwa inau’ké.
 then 3SG.F=see-PST see-PST-NF one person
 ‘Then she looked and saw a person.’ [ycn0053,59]

⁸This marker is clearly related to *ná*, but it is not used as an interrogative nor as a negative pronoun.

In sum, the markers described here have two core functions, as interrogatives and as indefinites used in negation. Typologically, they can be classed among the “interrogative-based negative indefinites” type (2.1) in the typology of Haspel-math (2013), although there is absolutely no change in form between the two functions. In addition to these two core functions, these pro-forms are used in various other contexts (hesitation, exemplification, exclamation), but they are absent from declarative affirmative clauses. The functions of these pro-forms make it difficult to categorize them among the types of indefinites proposed by Kahrel (1996), namely, neutral, polar or negative indefinites.

3.3 Negative derivation

Yukuna has a privative marker *ma-*, that derives adjectives from nouns (N-less). This prefix is well attested in many other Arawakan languages, and has been reconstructed to Proto-Arawakan (Payne 1991: 377–378). Similar markers are also cross-linguistically common, as shown in Veselinova (2013). The derived adjective is then marked for number with *-ru* in the singular, and *-runa* in the plural.⁹ Syntactically, these adjectives function like any other adjective in Yukuna: as noun modifiers (46), attributive predicates (47), secondary predicates in verbal clauses (48), and even on their own without a head noun.

- (46) Nu=e'wé ma-ijlu-rú waícha chúwajá.
 1SG=sibling PRIV-eye-SG come today
 ‘My blind brother came today.’ [Elicited, NB5:51]
- (47) Ma-chijné-rú ri=i'mi-chá.
 PRIV-hair-SG 3SG.NF=COP-PST
 ‘He was hairless.’ [ycn0041,125]
- (48) Yewákumi tá yuí-cha-ri=o ma-ijlu-rú, unká ri=ijlú
 Yewakúmi EMPH stay-PST-NF=MID PRIV-eye-SG NEG 3SG.NF=eye
 i'ma-lá-cha.
 COP-NEG-PST
 ‘It is Yewakúmi who became eyeless, he didn’t have eyes.’ [ycn0041,153]

This marker encodes the absence of an entity, and is very similar to negative existential and possessive predicates (48). The opposite meaning is encoded with attributive prefix *ka-*, that similarly, derives nouns into adjectives meaning ‘with N’.

⁹Number marking on adjectives derived with *ma-* differs from gender/number marking on other loci as typically the suffix *-ru* is used to encode feminine gender in the singular.

4 Other aspects of negation

This section explores further aspects of negation in Yukuna: the scope of negation (§4.1), the reinforcement of negation (§4.4), negation in complex clauses (§4.5), and some final issues in (§4.6).

4.1 Scope of negation

In order to narrow the scope of negation to specific constituents, Yukuna uses the non-verbal negation strategy *unká...kalé* around the negated constituent, while the main verb remains in the affirmative. Very few constituents may be negated in verbal clauses, most often locative adverbs, as shown in example (21) repeated here as (49) with locative adverb *ya'jnjǎjě* ‘far’, and indefinite pro-adverbs as in (50).

- (49) *Unká ya'jnjǎjě kalé kháǎjǐ-una i'jǎ.*
 NEG far.towards NVB.NEG DEM.PROX-PL go
 ‘These ones did not go far.’ (lit. ‘These ones went not far.’) [ycn0108,87]
- (50) *Unká náje kalé pi=i'jǎ nu=jwa'té.*
 NEG INDF.reason NVB.NEG 2SG=go 1SG=with
 ‘You don’t have to come with me.’ (lit. ‘You come with me in no way.’)
 [ycn0053,82]

This non-verbal negation strategy used in constituent negation is also the preferred strategy used in contrastive negation, as with the negative non-verbal predicate in (51). This strategy is further discussed in (§4.5), and (§4.6.2).

- (51) *Unká inaá-na le'jé kalé kéelé mawíru, achiñá-ná*
 NEG woman-PL possession NVB.NEG MED pineapple man-PL
le'jé, wa=le'jé ri=ikhá.
 possession 1PL=possession 3SG.NF=PRO
 ‘That pineapple is not women’s possession, it is men’s possession, it is ours.’ [ycn0091,37]

There are no attested instances of finite verbal clauses with negated core constituents in the corpus. In fact, elicited data reveals that it is agrammatical to negate S NPs with the non-verbal negation strategy in finite clauses. This is shown by the elicited grammaticality judgment example in (52). The only way to narrow the scope of negation to this constituent is by using a pseudo-cleft

containing a nominalized verb form instead (53). More data is needed to know whether this restriction applies to both S NPs and O NPs, or to S NPs only.

- (52) * *Unká* ru=i'rí *kalé* *íi-cha*.
 NEG 3SG.F=son NVB.NEG cry-PST
 ('Her son did not cry.') [elicitation, NB8,135]
- (53) *Unká* ru=i'rí *kalé* *kéelé* *íi-cha-ri*.
 NEG 3SG.F=son NVB.NEG DEM.MED cry-PST-NF
 'It was not her son the one who cried.' [elicitation, NB8,136]

Although there are no attested cases of core constituents negated with the non-verbal negation strategy in finite verbal clauses, it is possible to focalize both core constituents in negative clauses marked with SN, by placing the focalized constituent before the negative particle *unká*. This is shown with the focalized S NP in (54). This is the only instance in which a S NP is not immediately adjacent to the finite verb in Yukuna.

- (54) É na=apó-chi-ya=o *phiyúké*, *ri=ikhá* *unká*
 then 3PL=wake_up-CAUS-PST=MID all 3SG.NF=PRO NEG
 apó-la-cha.
 wake_up-V.NEG-PST
 'Then they all woke up, (but) *he* did not wake up.' [ycn0189,67]

4.2 Negative polarity

The domains of negative polarity items are encoded in Yukuna with a series of negative/interrogative pro-forms, as described in §3.2. Note that these pro-forms also appear in contexts which are not typically associated with negative polarity.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

No negation construction appears to affect the marking of NPs in Yukuna.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Yukuna has a variety of intensifier particles such as *wáni*, *tá*, *chí*, *kája*, and others. All of these markers have subtle differences in meaning and distribution, but broadly speaking, they are found with all constituent types, in both affirmative and negative polarity. When used with SN, they are placed immediately after the negator *unká*, and before the S NP and the verb (55).

- (55) Unká tá wa=jilá i'ma-lá.
 NEG EMPH 1PL=oil COP=NEG
 'We don't have any oil at all.' [ycn0101,6]

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

As shown in (§2.4), subordinate clauses differ on the specific negation strategy they use. Another difference concerns whether the complex clause allows negation to be marked on either the main or on the subordinate clause, or whether only one of them is marked for negation. The former case is shown by purpose of motion clauses, where negative polarity can be marked on the main verb (56), or on the subordinate verb as in (20) repeated here as (57). Semantically, the former implies that the motion action did not take place, whereas the latter implies that the motion action does occur.

- (56) Kája **unká** iná i'jna-lá matha'-jé.
 Then NEG GNR.PRO go-NEG cut-PURP.MOT
 'Then one does not go to cut.' [ycn0119,29]
- (57) **Unká** kapichá-je=o kalé pi=i'jné, i'ma-jé i=i'jné.
 NEG die-PURP.MOT=MID NVB.NEG 2SG=go live-PURP.MOT 2PL=go
 'You go (there) not to die, you go (there) to live.' [ycn0058,28]

In contrast, in complex sentences with volition verbs, negation marking is only attested on the main verb, and not on the subordinate clause, as in (58). Note that in this case, the negation of the main clause has scope over the negative indefinite *ná* in the subordinate clause.

- (58) Chúwa **unká** nu=wáta-la pi=a'-ká nu=jló ná tá!
 now NEG 1SG=want-NEG 2SG=give-EV.NMLZ 1SG=to INDF EMPH
 'Now I don't want you to give me anything!' [elicited, NB5:482]

Lastly, the marking of negation may also show irregularities in coordination. In sequences of negative verbal clauses, the first one is marked with SN *unká...-la*, while the following clauses omit *unká* and retain only *-la*, as in (59).

- (59) Náje **unká** pi=ña'-tá-la-cha, pi=ka'-tá-la-cha
 INDF.reason NEG 2SG=hit-CAUS-NEG-PST 2SG=throw-CAUS-NEG-PST
 kawáká ri=ikhá tá, pi=nó-la-cha ka'jné ri=ikhá tá?!
 down 3SG.NF=PRO EMPH 2SG=kill-NEG-PST DUB 3SG.NF=PRO EMPH
 'Why didn't you hit him, throw him down, kill him?!' [ycn0545,37]

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

Negative transport or negative raising refers to the process whereby a higher-clause negative is interpreted as negating a lower-clause predicate. In Yukuna, the negation strategy used in complex sentences varies according to each subordinate construction, as presented in §4.5.

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation, or the device used for objecting to a previous utterance (Horn 1989: 363), is encoded in Yukuna with non-verbal negation, just like contrastive negation described in (§4.1). This device is often used by repeating a non-verbal constituent mentioned by the interlocutor, in order to emphasize the speaker's disagreement over the interlocutor's wording. In (60), speaker B quotes the indefinite pronoun *ná* used by speaker A, and negates it using constituent negation, as he believes that the answer to the question is obvious. Note that in doing so, the speaker B uses the indefinite pronoun in a syntactic position typical of lexical nouns such as *pána* 'leaf'.

- (60) A: Ná chí ri=ií? kéelé íju pi=kulá.
 INDF EMPH 3SG.NF=name DEM.MED leaf 2SG=search
 'What is its name? That leaf you search.' [ycn0058,13]
- B: Unká "ná" kalé, wayú pána ri=ikhá.
 NEG INDF NVB.NEG bird_species leaf 3SG.NF=PRO
 'It is not a "what", it is the leaf of the black vulture.' [ycn0058,14]

4.6.3 Non-negative uses of negatives

The negation particle *unká* is found in several idiomatic, synchronically unsegmentable forms used with non negative meanings: *unkáchiyó* 'before', *unkájichiyó* 'almost', *unká kéla* 'otherwise' (61).

- (61) Unkájichiyó ri=nó-cha jlá ri=ikhá!
 almost 3SG.NF=kill-PST INTV 3SG.NF=PRO
 'He almost killed him!' [ycn0053,24]

4.6.4 Diachronic notes and observations

One of the puzzling features of negation in Yukuna concerns the diachrony of the negator *unká*. This marker is used in almost all negation strategies, most notably, SN (*unká...-la*) and non-verbal negation (*unká...kalé*). Concerning SN, we posit that a plausible diachronic scenario is that *unká* was originally a negative existential stative verb, which was used as a main clause predicate with a subordinate verb nominalized with *-la*. This initially bi-clausal construction later grammaticalized as a monoclausal SN strategy through the Negative Existential Cycle (Veselinova 2016). According to this diachronic hypothesis, the properties of modern Yukuna's negated verbs, and negative clauses, reflect the morphosyntax of pre-Yukuna's bi-clausal constructions. This diachronic hypothesis is based on the shared paradigmatic position of the negative suffix *-la* and clausal nominalizers such as *-ka* EV.NMLZ, and provides a likely account for Yukuna's typologically unusual cases of asymmetry in finiteness in subordinate clauses, whereby the negative shows reduced finiteness with respect to the affirmative (see §2.4.3). The former nominalizing function of *-la* would also explain its incompatibility with the far past imperfective suffix *-khe* in main clauses (see §2.1). Lastly, the proposed diachronic scenario is very likely from an Arawakan perspective, as nominalizations used as a subordinating strategy are widespread in the family (Aikhenvald 1999: 100).

5 Conclusion

In this chapter, we provided a detailed overview of Negation in Yukuna, following the typological questionnaire by Miestamo (2025) revised with Ljuba Veselinova in February 2019. We showed that Yukuna clearly distinguishes verbal and non-verbal clauses, as reported in other Arawakan languages such as Mojeño Trinitario (Rose 2018), and that the two main negation strategies in the language SN *unká...-la* and non-verbal negation *unká...kalé*, perfectly map onto this distinction. We showed that the same markers of SN and non-verbal negation were employed in most other domains, from negation in non-declaratives, to subordinate clauses, and constituent negation. Some exceptional domains with distinct negation markers are the prohibitive and negative purposive subordinate clauses. The Yukuna negative markers are summarized in Table 4.

In terms of (a)symmetries, we showed that both SN and non-verbal negation are symmetrical with respect to the corresponding affirmative verbal and non-verbal predicates. However, there are several cases of constructional asymmetries in non-declarative and non-main clauses. Polar questions and poten-

Table 4: Markers of negation in Yukuna

Domain	Function	Markers
Clausal	Standard Negation	<i>unká ...-la</i>
	Interrogative	<i>unká ...-la</i>
	Potential mood	<i>unká ...-la</i>
	Non-verbal predication	<i>unká ... kalé</i>
	Purpose of motion clauses	<i>unká ... kalé</i>
	Constituent negation	<i>unká ... kalé</i>
	Imperative	<i>-niña</i>
	Purposive clauses	<i>piyá</i>
Non-clausal	Negative replies	<i>unká</i>
	Negative derivation	<i>ma-</i>

tial modality clauses show an interesting alternation between nominalized verb forms in the affirmative, and finite verb forms marked with the SN markers in the negative. Similarly, certain adverbial subordinate clauses are encoded with a nominalized verb and a post-verbal subordinating particle in the affirmative, while in the negative, the verb is not nominalized, and the subordinating particle is placed after the negator *unká* rather than after the subordinate verb. We argued that these asymmetries in the marking of nominalization are interesting from a diachronic perspective, as they suggest that the origin of SN is a construction with a negative existential verb *unká* and a nominalized verb form with *-la*. Lastly, from a genealogical perspective, Yukuna shares some features with closely related languages, while showing some particularities. Indeed, although negation varies greatly in terms of both form and function within the family (Aikhenvald 1999: 96), some related languages show formally and functionally similar forms, such as the the pre-verbal particle *uká* in Kawiyaí, and *noka* in Baure (Michael 2014: 238). However, according to Michael (2014: 237), Arawakan languages tend to use a single pre-verbal marker in SN (21 out of 27 languages in his sample), whereas obligatory double-marking, specially involving a particle and a suffix, is quite rare. Yukuna is therefore marginal in that respect.

Acknowledgements

We send our deepest thanks to all the Yukuna and Matapí collaborators who have patiently taught their language to the first author, in particular, to Virgelina

Matapí Yucuna. We are also grateful to Olga Krasnoukhova for her valuable suggestions during the writing of this paper. We thank ELDP and Labex ASLAN for their financial support and lastly, we address our sincere gratitude to Matti Miestamo and Ljuba Veselinova for inviting us to be part of this book.

Abbreviations

1	first person	MED	medial
2	second person	MID	middle
3	third person	NF	non-feminine
AL	alienable	NVB	nonverbal
CAUS	causative	NEG	negative
CAUSE	cause clause	NMLZ	nominalizer
COND	conditional	NPOSS	unpossessed
COP	copula	PART	partitive
DEM	demonstrative	PST	past
DUB	dubitative	PL	plural
EMPH	emphatic particle	PRIV	privative
EV	event	PRO	pronoun
F	feminine	PROH	prohibitive
FUT	future	PROX	proximal
GNR	generic	PURP.MOT	purpose of motion
HAB	habitual aspect	Q	polar question
INDF	indefinite		particle
INTV	intensive	REFL	reflexive
IPFV	imperfective	SG	singular
LOC	locative	V	verbal

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Negation in Aguaruna

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The chapter describes negation in Aguaruna (Chicham). Verbal negation, including standard negation, makes use of inflectional verbal suffixes, part of a rich system of verbal morphology in the language. Two suffixed negators are selected according to aspect and finiteness of the verb, and a third suffix appears only in some nondeclarative clause types. The verbal paradigms are largely symmetrical, and the only category that is completely neutralized under negation is a distinction between plain and familiar imperative. Nominals can be derivationally negated, and this strategy is the basis for negating clauses with nominal predicates. When marked on the predicate, negation has clausal scope, and this is true both of verbal and nominal predicates. The chapter concludes with a discussion of the diachronic relation between the negative existential verb and one of the verbal negative suffixes, and suggests that the former is the source of the latter.

Keywords: chicham, amazonian, grammaticalization, aspect, tense.

1 Introduction

This chapter describes the grammatical means for expressing negation in Aguaruna (ISO: [agr](#), Glottocode: [agua1253](#)), a Chicham language of north Peru. The Chicham family (formerly known as Jivaroan) consists of five closely related languages all spoken in the south of Ecuador and north of Peru, in an area mostly within the Santiago, Pastaza and Marañón River basins. Aguaruna speakers refer to the language as Iiniá Chicham or Awajún, and the latter is the currently preferred label in Peruvian Spanish. Over 56,000 people identified as first language speakers of Aguaruna in the 2017 census ([Ministerio de Educación del Perú 2018](#): 64). Most speakers live in areas of native title in Peru's Amazonas region, with communities also in San Martín, Loreto, and Cajamarca regions. Bilingual schools have operated in Aguaruna communities since 1953, and there is a high degree of Aguaruna–Spanish bilingualism.

Simon E. Overall. 2025. Negation in Aguaruna. In Matti Miestamo & Ljuba Veselinova (eds.), *Negation book*, 1453–1485. Berlin: Language Science Press.

DOI: [??](#) 

Much of the data in this chapter comes from Overall (2017a), a full descriptive grammar of Aguaruna. This is supplemented with the author's field data, personal communication with native speakers, and written sources including a translation of the New Testament (La Liga Bíblica 2008) and public social media posts. Examples labelled SLCK were provided in personal communication by Segundo Lucio Cungumas Kujancham.

Aguaruna typically shows SV/APV constituent order, although with considerable freedom of movement for information structural purposes, and NP arguments need not be overt. Nominative-accusative alignment is manifested in case marking of NPs (zero-marked nominative, accusative enclitic =*na*) and verbal agreement, as well as grammatical processes such as nominalization and switch-reference, which distinguish subject (S or A) from non-subjects.

The morphology is both head and dependent marking: at the clause level, subjects and speech-act participant objects are marked with verbal suffixes, and NP arguments are marked for case; within the possessive NP, possessed nouns are morphologically marked as possessed, along with person and number of the possessor, and possessors are marked with genitive case, or accusative case if they are pronominal.

Morphological structure is basically agglutinating, with some fusion. Most allomorphy is the result of regular processes of syncope and apocope that elide the vowels of some CV syllables. The full underlying forms of morphs are cited in the text, while numbered examples show both surface forms and full morphemic forms. In examples, the first line gives the surface form after the application of vowel elision, and the second line gives the underlying morphological forms. Loanwords from Spanish are italicised in the second line. Examples are given in IPA, with the exception of those taken from written sources (such as example (3)), in which the first line (between angle brackets <...>) is in the Spanish-based vernacular orthography, which differs from IPA in the following graphs: <ch> = [tʃ]; <e> = [i]; <g> = [w] (between vowels) or [ŋ]; <h> = [ʔ]; <j> = [h]; <sh> = [ʃ]; <y> = [j]. In the glosses, affixes are separated with hyphens and clitics with equals signs. The analysis of a given form as an affix or a clitic is based on whether the form is associated with a particular word class or a phrasal constituent: affixes are positioned by morphological principles, while clitics are positioned by syntactic principles. See Overall (2017a: 9–10) for a fuller discussion. Square brackets are used in examples to delimit potentially unclear multiword constituents, such as the complement clauses in example (3).

Finite verbs in Aguaruna are marked for the following verbal grammatical categories: aspect, tense, person/number and mood/modality. These categories, along with derivational morphology and polarity, are marked in the verbal word,

which is entirely suffixing apart from an unproductive causative prefix. The ordering of the categories is largely as predicted by Bybee (1985), except that the inflectional category of aspect precedes negation in Aguaruna. The productive suffixing morphology can be usefully viewed in terms of morphological slots, as in the schematic overview in Figure 1. The valency-changing derivational morphology of slot A is not obligatory, but the rest of the categories are obligatorily specified, assuming that the paradigms include zero-marked members that contrast meaningfully with overt markers. Consequently, a finite verb can be defined as one that includes specification for all of the grammatical categories in slots B to G.

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G
ROOT	Valency	Object	Aspect	Negation	Tense	Subject	Mood

Figure 1: Productive morphological slots in the verbal word

Aspect marking in slot C forms a set of stems which can then combine with tense (slot E) and other morphology. The major aspectual stems are IMPERFECTIVE and PERFECTIVE. Imperfective is marked with a suffix *-a*, or *-ina* if the subject is plural, while perfective is marked with one of a set of suffixes that also give some further specification of the manner of the action. The selection of perfective suffix is largely lexically specified (Overall 2017a: 328). Less frequently encountered aspectual stems are POTENTIAL and DURATIVE (which combines only with imperative mood and gives the sense of ‘keep on doing’ or ‘do for a while’). The UNMARKED verb root also forms a stem to which nominalizers and some finite verbal forms can be added. Table 1 shows the full range of possibilities for marking in the aspect morphological slot.

Table 1: Aspect marked/unmarked stems

Stem	Marker(s)
imperfective	<i>-a</i> singular subject <i>-ina</i> plural subject
perfective	(one of a paradigm of suffixes)
potential	<i>-mai</i>
durative	<i>-ma</i> only combines with imperative
unmarked	Ø

Aguaruna has a rich system of tense marking (slot E) with “four synthetic past tenses, plus a past tense nominalizer, and two synthetic future tenses, plus a future nominalizer” (Overall 2017a: 16) in addition to zero-marked present/immediate past tense. There are also various auxiliary constructions and nominalized forms; it is likely that some past tense forms are relatively recently grammaticalized from auxiliary constructions. Note in particular the use of verbs nominalized with the suffix *-u* (see §3.3), which may function in lieu of a finite verb, giving a non-firsthand evidentiality reading (Overall 2014). This construction is very frequent in traditional stories, and can be seen combined with the copula enclitic in (36) *wi-u=ai* (go.PFV-NMLZ=COP.3.DECL) ‘he went’ and without the copula in (40) *dakita-u* (refuse.PFV-NMLZ) ‘he refused’.

Although they form morphologically distinct paradigms, tense and aspect markers typically combine in predictable ways. Most notably, non-present tenses almost always combine with perfective aspect. The morphologically unmarked present tense is formed on the imperfective stem, while the perfective stem with no overt tense marker is treated as an immediate past tense (Overall 2017a: 339–340). The remote past tense is unusual in that it can combine with imperfective, perfective, or the unmarked stem (as in (6) below). The unmarked verb stem appears in a few finite verb forms in addition to remote past tense, but these constructions appear to be lexically restricted and unproductive (Overall 2017a: 253).

Aguaruna is a clause-chaining language and makes heavy use of dependent verb forms and nominalizations, with relatively few finite verbs in narrative. Dependent verb forms lack tense and mood marking. They are marked for their dependent status, for person of the subject (using a different paradigm from that used in finite verbs) and for switch-reference.

The remainder of this chapter is structured according to the questionnaire (Miestamo 2025). §2 describes clausal negation, beginning with standard negation then moving on to non-declarative clause types, stative predications, non-main clauses and lexicalized negation. §3 describes non-clausal negation, including negative replies, negative indefinites, and negative derivation. §4 addresses some other aspects of negation, including questions of scope and marking of NPs under negation. In §4.6 some diachronic observations are presented. Finally §5 offers some concluding remarks.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation (SN) is defined as applying to a pragmatically unmarked, finite, declarative clause with a verbal predicate (Payne 1985, Miestamo 2005, 2017). The definition of verbal finiteness provided above makes it relatively easy to identify SN in Aguaruna. SN makes use of two verbal suffixes, *-tʃa* and *-tsu*, which appear in morphological slot D (Figure 1). Examples (1–3) illustrate the use of these suffixes. Note that in both suffixes the affricate is typically changed to a fricative when syncope places it in syllable-final position, following a general allophonic rule (Overall 2017a: 45–46). Also note that the negative suffix *-tʃa* triggers accent shift to the verb root, as in (2a) where the corresponding affirmative form has the accent falling on a suffix (2b) (Overall 2017a: 113).

- (1) a. dakástʃattahai
 daka-sa-tʃa-tata-ha-i
 wait-PFV-NEG-FUT-1SG-DECL
 ‘I will not wait.’ (Overall 2017a: 403)
- b. dakástathai
 daka-sa-tata-ha-i
 wait-PFV-FUT-1SG-DECL
 ‘I will wait.’ (SLCK)
- (2) a. waínkaʃmahai
 waina-ka-tʃa-ma-ha-i
 see-PFV-NEG-PST-1SG-DECL
 ‘I didn’t see it.’ (SLCK)
- b. wainkámhai
 waina-ka-ma-ha-i
 see-PFV-PST-1SG-DECL
 ‘I saw it.’ (SLCK)
- (3) a. <Wika dekatsjai ame tame nunak>
 wi=ka dika-tsu-ha-i [ami ta-mi nu=na=ka]
 1SG=TOP know.IPFV-NEG-1SG-DECL 2SG say.IPFV-2SG ANA=ACC=TOP
 ‘I don’t know what you’re talking about.’ (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 65;
 Matthew 26:70)

- b. <Mesías Kristu daagtin taatna
 [mesías Kristu naa-hu-tinu ta-a-tina=a
 Messiah Christ name-PSSD-ATTR arrive-PFV-FUT.NMLZ=COP.3
 nunak dekajai>
 nu=na=ka] dika-ha-i
 ANA=ACC=TOP know.IPFV-1SG-DECL
 ‘I know that Messiah (called Christ) is coming.’ (La Liga Bíblica 2008:
 176; John 4:25)

The use of verbal suffixes means that Aguaruna conforms to Type 6 (SO[V-Neg]) in [Dryer’s](#) (2013) typology. The SN construction is symmetric ([Miestamo 2005](#)), as the negative clause differs from the positive clause only in the presence of the negative marker itself (but note that negative clauses apparently favour the use of topic marking, see §4.3). SN is also symmetric at the level of the paradigm, as all finite declarative clause types can be negated with the same SN constructions (in fact, negative paradigms are consistently symmetric throughout the grammar, while the constructions are asymmetric for imperative/prohibitive, see §2.2.1).

The primary factor in the selection of negative suffix *-tfa* or *-tsu* appears to be aspect (and see [Croft 1991](#): 10–11 for some parallel cases of aspect-conditioned alternation in SN markers), but because tense and aspect markers rarely vary independently (despite forming distinct paradigms) there are few examples that allow this to be demonstrated robustly.

Within the most frequently encountered finite verb forms, the selection of negator is predictable based on the combinations of aspect and tense: perfective aspect combined with non-present tenses triggers the marker *-tfa* (this was illustrated with future tense in example (1a), and past tense in (2a)), while imperfective aspect combined with present tense triggers *-tsu* (3a).

The few tensed forms that involve neither perfective nor imperfective aspect show that the selection of negator is only partly predictable from the present/non-present tense distinction. Finite verb forms based on the potential stem are negated with *-tfa* in past tense (4a) and *-tsu* in present tense (5). These constructions are infrequent, however ([Overall 2017a](#): 336), as the potential stem is typically followed by a nominalizer, and then uses the nominal negation strategy involving the negating/nominalizing suffix *-tfa*u (for example, the form in (4b) was first offered to translate Spanish *no pude cruzar* ‘I couldn’t cross’, and compare (6); see §2.3 for details of the nominal negation strategy).

- (4) a. katiímaítfamí
 katii-mai-tfa-mí
 cross-POT-NEG-PST.3.DECL
 ‘One could not cross.’ (for example, a flooded river) (SLCK)
- b. katiímaítfau dikapsámhai
 katii-mai-inu-tfau dikapi-sa-ma-ha-i
 cross-POT-NMLZ-NEG.NMLZ feel-PFV-PST-1SG-DECL
 ‘I didn’t feel able to cross.’ (SLCK)
- (5) wíka hiínmaitsuhai, húna itípka
 wi=ka hiina-mai-tsu-ha-i hu=na itipaka
 1SG=TOP go.out-POT-NEG-1SG-DECL DEM.PROX=ACC kilt.ACC
 nahánkun hĩũǎ puhúttahai
 nahana-ku-nu hiũǎ puhu-tata-ha-i
 make.IPFV-SIM-1SG.SS house.LOC live-FUT-1SG-DECL
 ‘I can’t go out, I’ll stay at home making this kilt.’ (agr040719_01)¹
- (6) tjitfasán inímtanaǎ inimáintfau
 tjitfa-sa-nu inima-ta=na=ǎ inima-mai-inu-tfau
 speak-SUB-1SG.SS ask-NMLZ=ACC=ADD ask-POT-NMLZ-NEG.NMLZ
 dikapíjahai
 dikapi-ja-ha-i
 feel-REM.PST-1SG-DECL
 ‘I felt unable to even ask a question by speaking (because I didn’t know Spanish).’ (Overall 2017a: 609)

In contrast to the potential forms, remote past tense combined with the unmarked stem is negated with *-tsa* (which Overall 2017a assumes is an allomorph of *-tsu*), and not with *-tfa* as would be expected if non-present tense were the relevant factor in the selection of negator (7).

- (7) wahúk háaha núna tumáin
 [wahuka ha-a-ha nu=na] tu-mai-inu
 how be.sick-IPFV-1SG ANA=ACC say-POT-NMLZ
 dikáptsajahai
 dikapi-tsa-ja-ha-i
 feel-NEG-REM.PST-1SG-DECL
 ‘I didn’t feel able to say in what way I was sick.’ (Overall 2017a: 402)

¹Unpublished Aguaruna examples are cited with the code of the recording, currently being prepared for archiving.

The ‘normative’ form, also combining with unmarked stem, gives a gnomic reading of “the way things are done”, and this form is negated with *-tʃa* (8).

- (8) <uvashkam jagkinmayag juushtayame>
uva=ʃakama haŋki=numa=ja=ka huu-tʃa-tajami
 grape=ADD thorn=LOC=ABL=TOP take-NEG-NORM
 ‘We don’t pick grapes from amongst thorns.’ (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 19;
 Matthew 7:16)

Although part of the tense paradigm in Aguaruna, the normative form is synchronically a nominalizer in the other Chicham languages, and the use of *-tʃa* is consistent with its origin in a nominalizer (see §3.3). Similarly, the ‘narrative past’ tense marker *-haku* appears to have its etymological source in a nominalizer, and this means that it is incompatible with SN suffixes. Instead, a periphrastic negation strategy is used, which involves negating the verb root with the negative nominalizer (see §2.3 and §3.3), then adding the tense marker to an auxiliary verb (9).

- (9) díkatʃu ahakúi
 dika-tʃau a-haku=i
 know-NEG.NMLZ COP-NARR.PST=COP.3.DECL
 utʃiŋmitkatnak
 utʃiha-mitika-ta=na=ka
 give.birth-CAUS-ACT.NMLZ=ACC=TOP
 ‘(They) didn’t know how to make her give birth.’ (Overall 2017a: 300)

In sum, finite tensed forms with perfective or imperfective aspect show a clear distribution of negators according to the aspect marking. Combinations of negators with other stems (potential or unmarked) are not readily predictable, and simply depend on different constructions.² Such forms have low token frequency and may be paraphrased with constructions that are not strictly verbal, such as the nominalization in (4b) above. In non-finite verb forms, including nominalizations, the marker *-tʃa* is the default (§2.4, §3.3).

The mood marking paradigm in morphological slot G (Figure 1) includes traditional sentence-type markers (declarative, interrogative) and some epistemic markers (e.g. ‘counter-expectation’, ‘speculative’ see (48)) as well as a dedicated marker of traditional narrative genre. These other declarative clause types seem

²The durative stem appears only in combination with positive imperative and therefore does not combine with negative marking.

to use SN strategies, although there are few examples. Negation in interrogative clauses also uses SN, as described in §2.2.2. Imperative mood is marked in the same morphological slot as tense, and its negation is described in §2.2.1.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

2.2.1 Negation of commands

There are three distinct morphological forms for the expression of positive and negative commands in Aguaruna:

- (i) Canonical imperative is based on the suffix *-ta* (*-ti* in third person) related to future tense markers and the purpose clause construction;
- (ii) The suffix *-mi* marks hortative;
- (iii) The apprehensive marker *-i* forms the basis of the prohibitive form – functionally the negative counterpart of imperative.

Table 2 shows an overview of imperative forms and their negated counterparts in Aguaruna.³

Table 2: Aguaruna imperative and prohibitive verb forms (Overall 2017b: 68)

person	positive/command		negative/prohibition
	plain	familiar	
2SG	<i>-ta</i>	<i>-kia</i>	<i>-i-pa</i>
2PL	<i>-ta-hum</i>	<i>-khua</i>	<i>-i-hupa</i> or <i>-i-pa-humi</i>
3SG		<i>-ti</i>	<i>-ĩ-ka</i>
3PL		<i>-ti-numi</i>	<i>-i-numi-ka</i>
1PL		<i>-mi</i>	<i>-tfa-mi</i>

Two important points to note are that (i) the *-ta* forms for positive imperative do not extend to 1PL, which only uses the dedicated hortative marker *-mi*; and (ii) only the hortative *-mi* form is negated with the SN suffix *-tfa* (compare positive and negative forms (10)), while the *-ta* forms all have distinct prohibitive forms based on apprehensive marking, described below. (Note, however, that the etymological source of imperative *-ta*, the immediate future tense marker, can be negated using SN as in (18) below.)

³The ‘plain’ versus ‘familiar’ distinction in second person positive imperative is neutralized in prohibitive, which has only a single set of forms.

- (10) <Iina namakji aidau kuitamkami,
 ii=na namaka-hĩ a-ina-u kuitama-ka-mi
 1PL=ACC river-PSSD.1PL exist-PL.IPFV-NMLZ care.for-PFV-HORT
 tsuwapakchami.>
 tsuwapa-ka-tfa-mi
 make.dirty-PFV-NEG-HORT
 ‘Let’s look after our rivers, let’s not make them dirty.’ (*Cultura Awajun*,
 Facebook post, 9 August 2019; the original post includes the Spanish
 translation ‘No tiremos la basura a nuestros ríos, cuidémosla.’)

Prohibitive (negative imperative) forms use the apprehensive suffix *-i* combined with suffixes that indicate person and number. This suffix normally forms a negative counterpart of the purpose clause (§2.4.4), but uses a different set of person suffixes when forming a prohibitive clause, as shown in the rightmost column of Table 2 (compare these to the apprehensive set in Table 3). Note that there are two forms for 2PL: *-hupa* or a form with 2SG *-pa* followed by the 2PL marker from Table 3, i.e. *-pa-humi*. There does not appear to be any semantic distinction between the two forms for second person plural (Overall 2017b: 74, also see Peña 2015: 678 on a similar free variation in Wampis).

The prohibitive construction conforms to the fourth type described by van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev) (2013), as it involves a negator that is distinct from that used in SN, and is based on a form that is distinct from the positive imperative.⁴

Examples (11–12) illustrate singular and plural imperative contrasted with prohibitive, (13) shows the alternative plural prohibitive form, and (14) gives a prohibitive in context, from a direct speech report in a recorded narrative. Example (15) illustrates jussive, the third person imperative, and (16) shows its negative counterpart, third person prohibitive, formed with the suffix *-ka*, which is unique to this form.

- (11) a. atfiktá
 atfi-ka-ta
 grab-PFV-IMP
 ‘Grab (it)!’

⁴As noted above, negation of the 1PL hortative form is performed with exactly the same marking as SN, added directly to the positive construction. It is unclear how this compares to crosslinguistic patterns, as there is little typological work directly addressing first person plural prohibitive forms – for example, van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev) (2013) restrict themselves to second person prohibitives, and van der Auwera & Krasnoukhova (2020) explicitly exclude 1PL forms for reasons of space.

- b. atʃikáipa
atʃi-ka-i-pa
grab-PFV-APPR-2.PROH
'Don't grab (it)!' (Overall 2017b: 74)
- (12) a. atʃiktáhum
atʃi-ka-ta-humi
grab-PFV-IMP-2PL
'Grab (it)!'
b. atʃikáinpa!
atʃi-ka-i-hupa
grab-PFV-APPR-2PL.PROH
'Don't grab (it)!' (Overall 2017b: 74)
- (13) wáinkam ihuípahum!
wainka-mi ihu-i-pa-humi
in.vain-2 stab-APPR-2.PROH-2PL
'Don't stab it in vain!' (Overall 2017b: 75)
- (14) atsá, ámik miníipa, wíka ifámainnum
atsa ami=ka mini-i-pa wi=ka ifama-mai-inu=numa
no 2SG=TOP come.PFV-APPR-2.PROH 1SG=TOP fear-POT-NMLZ=LOC
wíuqahai, ámik titú puhustá
wi-a-ha-i ami=ka titu puhu-sa-ta
go-IPFV-1SG-DECL 2SG=TOP still live-PFV-IMP
'No, don't you come, I'm going into danger, you stay still!' (Overall 2017a: 583)
- (15) <Yutái susatajum yuwati>
ju-taĩ su-sa-ta-humi ju-a-ti
eat-NMLZ give-PFV-IMP-2PL eat-PFV-JUSS
'Give her food and let her eat!' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 79; Mark 5:43)
- (16) útʃi húna saíptʃihin
utʃi hu=na saipi-utʃi-hĩ=na
child DEM.PROX=ACC rind-DIM-PSSD.3=ACC
ijáunakif juwáwainka
ija-u=na=ki=fa ju-aw-aĩ-ka
fall.IPFV-NMLZ=ACC=RESTR=ADD eat-PFV-APPR.3SG-PROH
'Don't let the child eat this rind that is falling!' (Overall 2017b: 75)

2.2.2 Negation of questions

Interrogative clauses use the same SN strategies as declarative clauses. Negated content questions (17–18) are rare in published material.

- (17) maʔ, “antúkta” táha! wánka ántasmi?
 [maʔ antu-ka-ta ta-ha] [wánka anta-tsu-mi]
 hey listen-PFV-IMP say.IPFV-1SG.EXCLAM why listen.IPFV-NEG-2SG
 ‘Hey, “listen” I say! Why don’t you listen?’ (Overall 2017a: 563)
- (18) wánka ahápaʔtami?
 wánka ahapa-tʃa-ta-mi
 why give.birth.PFV-NEG-IMM.FUT-2SG
 ‘Why aren’t you going to give birth?’ (Overall 2017a: 354)

Overall (2017a: 394) notes that polar questions often include negative marking, apparently pleonastically ((19), also (26) and (41) below). Example (19) is a rhetorical question: the speaker knows that the addressee has killed the dog, and the question is a rebuke. A more detailed study would be necessary to better understand the pragmatics involved in negated polar questions.

- (19) jãwǎã íinu maáfmakum?
 [jawaã ii-nau] maa-tʃa-ma=ka-umi
 dog 1PL-POSS kill.PFV-NEG-PST=Q-2SG
 ‘Have you killed our dog?’ (lit. ‘haven’t you killed our dog?’) (Overall 2017a: 155)

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Non-verbal predication in Aguaruna may be encoded by means of an enclitic copula, a verbal copula, or juxtaposition of subject and predicate. Clauses expressing equation, proper inclusion and attribution generally make use of a partially verblike copula =*aita* (with various reduced allomorphs), which is enclitic to a nominal or adjectival predicate and is inflected with finite verbal morphology. The adjective word class is fairly small (Overall 2017a: 130), and many property concepts are encoded with intransitive lexical verbs.

The distribution of the enclitic copula depends on grammatical factors including finiteness and tense. Where the enclitic cannot be used, a separate verbal copula *a-* appears instead. In present tense declarative clauses, the enclitic copula may be omitted, resulting in simple juxtaposition of subject and predicate.

Neither the enclitic copula nor the copula verb is compatible with SN, instead making use of a suffix *-tfau* (reduced to *-tfu* following a vowel) affixed directly to the non-verbal predicate. This suffix also nominalizes and negates verbal roots, and etymologically consists of the negative suffix *-tfa* and nominalizer *-u*, hence Overall (2017a) labels it a ‘negative nominalizer’, and shows that synchronically it is a suffix in its own right (Overall 2017a: 513–514, 527). Examples in this chapter follow Overall 2017a in glossing this suffix NEG.NMLZ ‘negative nominalizer’.

Example (20) shows the enclitic copula combining with a negated nominal in the first clause, and a non-negated pronoun in the second clause. Example (21) shows a negated nominal predicate combined with the copula verb, as the enclitic copula cannot appear in this type of subordinate clause. Example (22) shows a negated nominal predicate juxtaposed to the subject in a present tense, declarative clause with third person singular subject.

- (20) pákitfauwaithi, íijaithi
paki-tfau=aita-hi ii=aita-hi
white.lipped.peccary-NEG.NMLZ=COP-1PL.DECL 1PL=COP-1PL.DECL
'We're not peccaries, we're us (i.e. people).' (Overall 2017a: 406)
- (21) <Atumek judiuchu asajum...>
atumi=ka hudiu-tfau asa-humi
2PL=TOP Jew-NEG COP.SUB-2PL.SS
'As you are not Jews...' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 291; Romans 11:24)
- (22) húka mídaufju
hu=ka mi-nau-tfau
DEM.PROX=TOP 1SG-POSS-NEG.NMLZ
'This is not mine.' (Overall 2017a: 406)

Although the copula verb is not compatible with SN, it does combine with the apprehensive marker in prohibitive clauses, as in (23) (see §2.2.1 above for details of the prohibitive construction).

- (23) kása áipa
kasa a-i-pa
thief COP-APPR-2.PROH
'Don't be a thief!' (Overall 2017b: 78)

Existential predication is formed with a verb *a-*, which is morphologically distinct from the homophonous copula verb (Overall 2018, forthcoming). Negative existential is encoded with a verb *atsu-*. The two forms are illustrated in (24)).

- (24) a. *ãwĩ* *awai* Western Union
 au=ĩ *a-wa-i* *Western Union*
 DEM.DIST=LOC exist.IPFV-3-DECL Western Union
 ‘There’s a Western Union there.’
- b. *hũwĩ* Nieva *atsawai*
 hu=ĩ Nieva *atsa-wa-i*
 DEM.PROX=LOC Nieva exist.NEG.IPFV-3-DECL
 ‘Here in Nieva there isn’t one.’ (Overall 2017a: 158)

It is tempting to analyse *atsu-* as consisting of the existential verb *a-* and SN suffix *-tsu* (Peña 2015 and Kohlberger 2020 adopt this analysis for cognate forms in Wampis and Shiwiari, respectively), but Overall (2017a: 407) shows that this is unsatisfactory, as both valency-changing morphology in slot (B) and imperfective aspect in slot (C) follow the root *atsu-* (as can be seen in example (29) below), whereas both would be expected to intervene between the root and an SN suffix in slot (D) (see §1, Figure 1). The diachrony of the negative existential is discussed further in §4.6 below.

Locative predication makes use of the lexical verb *puhu-* ‘live’. This verb has the sense of “be alive” or “dwell in a place” in its lexical use, but encodes temporary location when used as a copula with a locational predicate, as in example (25). This verb takes the full range of verbal morphology, including SN. Example (26) illustrates the negated form in a question (note that the use of negation here is pleonastic, cf. §2.2.2). Example (27) shows that in a declarative sentence the use of the expected negated form *puha-tsu-wa-i* (live.IPFV-NEG-3-DECL) is dispreferred with a human subject, apparently due to ambiguity with the lexical meaning ‘he is not alive’. Instead, the negative existential verb *atsu-* is used.

- (25) <Juwi *pujawai*>
 hu=ĩ *puha-wa-i*
 DEM.PROX=LOC live.IPFV-3-DECL
 ‘He is here.’ (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 151; Luke 17:23)
- (26) <Ju *jega* *juwi* Simón *daagtin*, *tikich*
 hu *hiuqã* *hu=ĩ* *Simón* *naa-hĩ-tinu* *tikitji*
 DEM.PROX house DEM.PROX=LOC Simon name-PSSD.3-ATTR other
 daaji Pedro *tutaya* *nu* *pujatsuak?>*
 naa-hĩ Pedro *tu-tajã* *nu* *puha-tsu-wa=ka*
 name-PSSD.3 Peter say-NORM ANA live.IPFV-NEG-3=Q
 ‘Is Simon, also known as Peter, (not) in this house?’ (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 232; Acts 10:18)

- (27) <juwig atsawai>
 hu=i=ka atsa-wa-i
 DEM.PROX=LOC=TOP exist.NEG.IPFV-3-DECL
 ‘He isn’t here.’ (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 104; Mark 16:6)

Finally, possessive predication is based on the existential verb, with the possessum encoded as subject and possessor encoded as an object added by the applicative derivation that typically encodes beneficiary or maleficiary, shown in (28). This construction is negated using the applicativized negative existential, as in (29).

- (28) <Siete pag, nuigtú wajumchik namak
 siete paŋka nuigtu wahuma-tʃi=ki namaka
 seven bread furthermore few-DIM=RESTR fish
 ajutjamui>
 a-hu-tuhama-wa-i
 exist-APPL-1PL.OBJ.IPFV-3-DECL
 ‘We have seven loaves of bread and just a few fish.’ (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 39; Matthew 15:34)

- (29) <minak tudauk atsugtawai>
 mi=na=ka tudau=ka atsu-hu-ta-wa-i
 1SG=ACC=TOP sin=TOP exist.NEG-APPL-1SG.OBJ.IPFV-3-DECL
 ‘I have no sin.’ (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 434; 1 John 1:8)

In summary, stative predications in Aguaruna use two strategies distinct from SN: nominal and adjectival predications mark negation on the non-verbal predicate using a derivational suffix, while existential and possessive predications make use of a distinct negative existential verb. Locative predication may use SN, but may also make use of the negative existential verb.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

2.4.1 Preliminaries

Aguaruna makes heavy use of non-finite clause types in clause-chaining constructions, especially in narrative texts. These clauses are morphosyntactically dependent in that they can only appear in a construction with an associated finite predicate: the verbs of dependent clauses are marked for some of the same categories as finite verbs, but lack tense and mood marking. Subject agreement in

dependent verbs is marked with a slightly different paradigm from that of finite verbs, and the agreement markers follow suffixes that mark the verb's dependent status and to some extent its semantic relation to the larger construction. Dependent verbs are also marked for switch-reference, indicating whether the subject of the dependent verb is the same as or different from that of a controlling verb (Haiman & Munro 1983).

Non-finite verbs forming temporal clauses are negated with the verbal negator *-tfa*, and do not show the aspect-based alternation of *-tfa* and *-tsu* observed in finite verbs, as shown in §2.4.2. The same negator is involved in negating nominalizations, as described in §3.3, apart from one construction that appears to combine *-tsu* with a nominalizer, which is described in §2.4.3. Purpose clauses have a negative counterpart formed with the 'apprehensive' marker *-i*, described in §2.4.4. The same marker forms the basis of the prohibitive forms described above (§2.2.1). Finally, relativization and complementation are mostly achieved through the use of nominalized clauses, as described in §2.4.5.

2.4.2 Temporal subordinate clauses

The most frequently encountered subordinate clauses are sequential clauses, formed on the perfective stem, and simultaneous clauses, formed on the imperfective stem plus the 'simultaneous' marker *-ku*, as in (30). Although the imperfective stem is associated with the *-tsu* negator in finite clauses, simultaneous subordinate clauses take the *-tfa* negator (31–32). I have not encountered any examples of negated subordinate clauses based on the perfective stem. The addition of the topic enclitic *=ka* to any of these clause types forms a conditional clause (as in (32); also see (49) below).

- (30) *tikish wínakũĩ*
tikichi wi-ina-ku-ĩ
other go-PL.IPFV-SIM.3-DS
'When others were going...' (Overall 2017a: 608)
- (31) *iki akihúinaɸkũĩ*
iki aki-hu-ina-tfa-ku-ĩ
yet pay-1SG.OBJ-PL.IPFV-NEG-SIM.1/3-DS
'They're not paying me yet...' (Overall 2017a: 408)

- (32) núna wafín dufíkiaʃkunuk
 [nu=na wafí=na dufíki-a-tʃa-ku-nu=ka]
 ANA=ACC spider.monkey=ACC laugh.at-IPFV-NEG-SIM-1SG.SS=TOP
 tukúmain awakáhai
 tuku-mai-inu awaki-ka-ha-i
 shoot-POT-NMLZ overcome-PFV-1SG-DECL
 ‘If I hadn’t laughed at that monkey, I would have been able to shoot it.’
 (agr041102_07)

2.4.3 “Without doing” clauses

Nominalized clauses with the *-tsu* negator and final /k/ (33–35) are analysed by Overall (2017a: 404) as a special construction meaning “without doing something” (cf. Pellizaro & Náwech 2005: 83; Saad 2014: 64, 96 on a similar construction in Shuar). This is the only construction in which the *-tsu* negator combines with a nominalizer, as nominalizations are normally negated with *-tʃa* (§3.3). There is no positive counterpart to this construction.

- (33) áuhtsuk papínak puhújahai
 [auhu-tsu-u=ka papi=na=ka] puhu-ja-ha-i
 study-NEG-NMLZ=TOP book=ACC=TOP live-REM.PST-1SG-DECL
 ‘I was not studying books.’ (Overall 2017a: 263)
- (34) mína saínakíʃ úhatsuk...
 [mi=na sai-hu=na=ki=ʃa uha-tsu-u=ka]
 1SG=ACC brother.in.law-PSSD.1SG=ACC=RESTR=ADD tell-NEG-NMLZ=TOP
 ‘Without telling even my brother-in-law...’ (Overall 2017a: 192)
- (35) titú puhustá áanuk tútsuk
 titu puhu-sa-ta aanu=ka tu-tsu-u=ka
 quietly live-PFV-IMP DEM.MED=TOP say-NEG-NMLZ=TOP
 ‘Keep calm and don’t say that!’ (agr041005_22)

2.4.4 Purpose and apprehensive clauses

The negative counterpart of a purpose clause is formed with the apprehensive marker. The apprehensive form is marked with a suffix *-i*, as shown in Table 3 (note that third person singular is marked only with nasalization).

Table 3: Apprehensive marking in Aguaruna (Overall 2017b: 73)

person	singular	plural
1	<i>-i-ha</i> -APPR-1SG	<i>-i-hi</i> -APPR-1PL
2	<i>-i-mi</i> -APPR-2SG	<i>-i-humi</i> -APPR-2PL
3	<i>-ĩ</i> -APPR.3SG	<i>-i-numĩ</i> -APPR-3PL

Overall (2017b: 73–74) notes that the apprehensive verb form is morphologically finite (subject is marked as for declarative verbs apart from the third person forms, and there is no switch-reference morphology), but is generally used in constructions that link its clause conceptually to another finite verb, making it appear functionally like a dependent clause. This is perhaps to be expected, given that it is semantically the negative counterpart of the dependent purpose clause type illustrated in (36). In particular, apprehensive verbs often appear in dependent speech report constructions ((37); the underlined part is the speech report); but (38), consisting of two juxtaposed finite clauses, shows that this is not necessarily the case.⁵

- (36) *wikaiuák* *wíuwai* *kuntínun*
wikaiuqa-kũ *wi-u=ai* [*kuntinu=na*
 walk.PFV-SIM.3.SS go.PFV-NMLZ=COP.3.DECL animal=ACC
mantumaátatus
mantu-ma-a-tatus]
 kill.APPL-REFL-PFV-INTL.3.SS
 ‘He went walking to kill animals for himself.’ (i.e. ‘he went hunting’)
 (Overall 2017a: 492–493)

- (37) *áimak* *ímamkimas* *intáhain* *tus*
aima-kũ *ímamkima-sã* [*inta-ha-i-ha* *tus*]
 fill.IPFV-SIM.3.SS be.careful-SUB.3.SS break-PFV-APPR-1SG say.SUB.3.SS
 ‘Filling them carefully, lest he should break them...’ (lit. ‘...saying “lest I break them”’) (Overall 2017a: 363)

⁵Note that the purpose clause marker itself comes from a combination of the future marker *-ta* with a dependent form of the speech verb: compare the third person purpose clause marker *-tatus* (36) with the third person dependent speech verb *tus* in (37).

- (38) wakítkita ámik, mantámawainum!
 wakita-ki-ta ami=ka mã-tama-aw-ai-numi
 go.back-PFV-IMP 2SG=TOP kill-2.OBJ-PFV-APPR-3PL
 ‘You go back, lest they kill you!’ (Overall 2017a: 491)

The apprehensive forms are the basis of the prohibitive paradigm, the negative counterpart of the imperative, as described in §2.2.1 above.

2.4.5 Relative and complement clauses

Relative clauses are formed with nominalizations, see for example the NP [*hu=na saipi-utfi-hĩ=na [ija-u=na=ki=fã]*_{RC}]_{NP} (DEM.PROX=ACC rind-DIM-3=ACC fall.IPFV-NMLZ=ACC=RESTR=ADD) ‘this rind that is falling’ in example (16). Negative counterparts can be formed using the negative nominalizer *-tfau*, for example [*nĩ [waina-tfau=ka]*_{RC}]_{NP} (3SG see-NEG.NMLZ=TOP) ‘one who doesn’t know’ in example (48) below (and see §3.3 for details of the negative nominalization).

Most complement clauses are formed with nominalizations (a complementation strategy, in Dixon’s (2006) terminology), but the verb *dika-* can take a juxtaposed finite clause as complement. There do not appear to be any grammatical restrictions on negating the predicate either of the complement or the main clause. Example (39) includes a negated predicate of the complement clause (‘they did not enter’) while the main predicate (‘we know’) is positive. Compare this with example (9) above, where the same verb is negated (‘(they) didn’t know [how to make her give birth]’), and note that when the main clause predicate is negated, the complement clause takes the form of a nominalization.

- (39) <Yamaik shiig dekainaji, ditak Apajuin dekaskeapi
 yamai=ka fiiha dika-ina-hi [dita=ka apahui=na dikaski-api
 now=TOP well know-PL.IPFV-1PL.DECL 3PL=TOP God=ACC true-TAG
 tuinachu asag, Apajuí ditan nugká
 tu-ina-tfau asa-ahã apahui dita=na nunka
 say-PL.IPFV-NEG.NMLZ COP.SUB-PL.3.SS God 3PL=ACC land.ACC
 anagkuauwa nuwig
 anan̄ku-a-u=a nu=ĩ=ka
 promise-PFV-NMLZ=COP.3 ANA=LOC=TOP
 wayachajui.>
 wajã-tfã-aha-u=i]
 enter.PFV-NEG-PL-NMLZ=COP.3.DECL
 ‘Now we know well, that because they don’t believe in God (lit. ‘they

don't say of God "he must be true"), they did not enter into the land that God promised them.' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 398; Hebrews 3:19)

The verb *dakitu-* 'refuse', illustrated in (40), is an inherently negative counterpart to *wakiya-* 'want', and is discussed further in §2.5.

- (40) dakítau apahíhã witán
 dakita-a-u [apa-hĩ=haĩ wi-ta=na]
 refuse-IPFV-NMLZ father-PSSD.3=COM go-ACT.NMLZ=ACC
 'He refused to go with his father.' (Overall 2017a: 530)

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

The negative existential verb *atsu-* is clearly related to the existential *a-* and the negative suffix *-tsu*, but is best analysed synchronically as a morphologically simple verb root, as shown above (§2.3), and discussed further in §4.6 below. A few other verb roots are semantically negative, at least when translated into Spanish or English, for example *dakitu-* 'not want'; *tuhintu-* 'be unable'; *kanina-* 'not fit'. Note, however, that these verbs do not preclude negated forms of the corresponding positive verbs. For example, (41) shows that *dakitu-* 'refuse, not want' is not formally the negation of *wakiya-* 'want', since this verb can be negated with SN suffixes.⁶ In other words, the meaning of *dakitu-* is not simply the negation of *wakiya-*, but must add some other sense too.

- (41) amíf Lima wítasamíf wakítuqasmík?
 ami=fa [Lima wi-tasa-mi=fa] wakítuqa-a-tsu-mi=ka
 2SG=QTOP Lima go.PFV-INTL-2=QTOP want-IPFV-NEG-2SG=Q
 'Do you want to go to Lima?' (lit. 'Don't you want to go to Lima?')
 (Overall 2017a: 480)

Two particles function as pro-clauses and are semantically negative: *wããs* 'I don't know why' introduces rhetorical questions (42); and an answer word *atfá* 'I don't know' (Overall 2017a: 409).

- (42) wããs dúfa núnikabia muúntaf
 wããs nu=fa nuni-ka-amaja muunta=fa
 I.don't.know.why ANA=QTOP do-PFV-DIST.PST.3 adult=QTOP
 'I don't know why the man did that.' (Overall 2017a: 401)

⁶Note that the context is a polar question, where the negative marker could be considered pleonastic – see §2.2.2.

3 Non-clausal negation

Aguaruna has a pro-sentence negative particle *atsa* ‘no’, used for answering questions (§3.1). There are no dedicated indefinite expressions, and strategies for expressing negative indefinites are discussed in §3.2. Negative derivation and negation of nominalizations are described in §3.3.

3.1 Negative replies

The word for ‘no’ is *atsá*, clearly related to the negative existential *atsu-*. The corresponding affirmative particle is *ĩĩĩ* ~ *hĩĩĩ* ~ *hĩĩá* ‘yes’. Both particles are frequently accompanied by repetition of the predicate, and both relate to the polarity of the predicate in the answer, regardless of that in the question. That is, there is no grammatical or lexical indication of whether or not the answer contradicts the question. A third particle *atfá* ‘I don’t know’, mentioned in §2.5 above, is not normally accompanied by a repetition of the questioned predicate.

Recorded Aguaruna data is largely narrative texts, and there are few examples of question and answer exchanges. The examples below are taken from a Bible translation, and illustrate the four possible combinations of polarity in the question and answer.

Example (43) shows the affirmative particle contradicting the negation in the polar question. Compare with (44), in which a positive question is answered in the affirmative.

- (43) <¿Amina jintinjamnuk akikmakchattawak juga
 amina hintintu-hama-inu=ka akikma-ka-tfá-tata-wa=ka [hiuã
 2SG.ACC teach-2.OBJ-NMLZ=TOP pay-PFV-NEG-FUT-3-Q house
 Apajuí ememattainum kuichik itaata
 apahui imima-tu-taĩ=numa kuitfiki i-ta-a-ta
 God feel.pride-APPL-NMLZ=LOC money CAUS-arrive-PFV-IMP
 tibauwa nunak? tuidau.
 ti-mau=a nu=na=ka] tu-ina-u
 say.PFV-NMLZ=COP.3 ANA=ACC=TOP say-PL.IPFV-NMLZ
 Tama ni ayaak: Ehé akikmaktatui>
 ta-ma ñĩ aya-a-kũ i?i akikma-ka-tata-wa-i
 say.IPFV-NSBJ/SBJ.COREF 3SG reply-IPFV-SIM.3.SS yes pay-PFV-FUT-3-DECL

HC: @LSP:
 there is a long
 space before the
 translation of
 43, could you
 fix this?

‘They said “won’t your teacher pay the temple tax?”, when they said that

to him he replied “yes, he will pay it”. (Note the translation of *temple tax* is literally ‘that of which is said “bring money to the house where one praises God”’.) (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 43; Matthew 17:24–25)

- (44) <¿Antamek jujú imataina dusha?
 anta-mi=ka huhu imata-ina nu=fa
 hear.IPFV-2SG=Q DEM.PROX shout-PL.IPFV ANA=TOP
 Tama Jisus ayaak: Ehé,
 ta-ma Jisus aya-a-kũ iʔi
 say.IPFV-NSBJ/SBJ.COREF Jesus reply-IPFV-SIM.3.SS yes
 antajai.>
 anta-ha-i
 hear.IPFV-1SG-DECL

‘(The priests and teachers asked) do you hear what these (children) are shouting? When they said that, Jesus replied “yes, I hear it”. (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 49–50; Matthew 21:16)

Turning to negative replies, in (45) a question with positive polarity is answered in the negative, and in (46) a question with negative polarity is answered with negative polarity.

- (45) <¿Apajuí etsegtin taatna
 apahui itsihu-tu-inu ta-a-tin=a
 God preach-APPL-NMLZ arrive-PFV-FUT.NMLZ=COP.3
 dukaitam? Nu tamashkam: Atsa,
 nu=ka=ita-mi nu ta-ma=fakama atsa
 ANA=Q=COP-2SG ANA say.IPFV-NSBJ/SBJ.COREF=ADD no
 duchauwaitjai, tau.>
 nu-tfau=aita-ha-i ta-u
 ANA-NEG.NMLZ=COP-1SG-DECL say.IPFV-NMLZ

‘Are you the one who will arrive to preach on God’s behalf? He, when they said that to him, said “no, I’m not that one.”’ (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 170; John 1:21)

- (46) <¿Amesh auna aentsun achikaja nuna
 ami=fa au=na aintsu=na atfi-ka-aha nu=na
 2SG=TOP DEM.DIST=ACC person=ACC grab-PFV-PL ANA=ACC
 jintintaijichukaitam? tusa iniau.
 hintintu-taĩ-hĩ=tfau=ka=ita-mi tu-sã ini-a-u
 teach-NMLZ-PSSD.3=NEG.NMLZ=Q=COP-2SG say-SUB.3.SS ask-IPFV-NMLZ

Tama Pedro ayaak: Atsa, wika
 ta-ma Pedro aja-a-kũ atsa wi=ka
 say.IPFV-NSBJ/SBJ.COREF Peter reply-IPFV-SIM.3.SS no 1SG=TOP
 auna jintintaijichuitjai,
 au=na hintintu-tai-hĩ-tfau=ita-ha-i
 DEM.DIST=ACC teach-NMLZ-PSSD.3-NEG.NMLZ=COP-1SG-DECL
 tau.>
 ta-u
 say.IPFV-NMLZ
 “Are you not a disciple of that person they’re holding?” she asked, when
 she said that Peter replied “no, I’m not his disciple.” (La Liga Bíblica 2008:
 207; John 18:17)

In all of the above examples, answers to polar questions consist of the particle and repetition of the predicate. An answer may also consist of only the relevant particle, or only the predicate. Table 4 summarizes the combinations of polarity in the question-answer pairs illustrated above.

Table 4: Summary of question and answer pairs in examples

example	polarity of Q	polarity of A	particle used
(43)	Affirmative	Affirmative	<i>iʔi</i> ‘yes’
(44)	Negative	Affirmative	<i>iʔi</i> ‘yes’
(45)	Affirmative	Negative	<i>atsá</i> ‘no’
(46)	Negative	Negative	<i>atsá</i> ‘no’

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Aguaruna lacks indefinite expressions, both positive (*something*, *somebody*) and negative (*nothing*, *nobody*). In contexts where positive indefinites appear in translations, nominalizations (often “headless relatives”, see Overall 2017a: 546) are used, whether in positive (47) or negative (48) polarity contexts. Note that example (48) comes from a discussion about the origin of a particular place name. The verb *waina-* ‘see’ is used with the sense of ‘know’ when referring to knowing a person or place.

- (47) kánu hapikbáuwa íman tahák
 [kanu hapi-ki-mau=a iman] taha-kũ
 canoe pull-PFV-NSBJ.NMLZ=COP.3 INTS.NMLZ clear.IPFV-SIM.3.SS
 akaikíuwai
 akai-ki-u=ai
 go.down-PFV-NMLZ=COP.3.DECL
 ‘(Something) as big as a canoe being dragged had come down clearing a path through the undergrowth.’ (Overall 2017a: 551)
- (48) túhã nĩ waintfauk waináinatsuastai
 tuhã [nĩ waina-tfau=ka] waina-ina-tsu-u=a-tsa-tai
 but 3SG see-NEG.NMLZ=TOP see-PL.IPFV-NEG-NMLZ=COP.3-SPECL-SPECL
 ‘But one who doesn’t know (the place) will probably never know.’
 (Overall 2017a: 378)

Example (49) is from a text about hunting techniques; the speaker tells how people build hides in places where game animals come to eat fruits, and kill the animals when they arrive. An implicit object (an animal) is simply unmarked in this example, which could just as well be translated ‘if we don’t kill anything’.

- (49) núniafkuik, núu dútika
 nuni-a-tfa-ku-i=ka [nu dutika]
 do-IPFV-NEG-SIM-1PL.SS=TOP ANA do.PFV.1PL.SS
 máafkuik, káfij wítájamĩ
 [ma-a-tfa-ku-i=ka] kafi=fa wi-tajami
 kill-IPFV-NEG-SIM-1PL.SS=TOP night=ADD go-NORM
 ‘If we don’t do that, if having done all that we don’t kill (an animal), we even go at night.’ (Overall 2017a: 619)

A strategy consisting of the numeral ‘one’ plus the restrictive and additive enclitics is used to encode the sense of ‘nobody at all’ or ‘nothing at all’ (i.e. ‘not even one’) in (50); and example (51) shows a similar construction based on the quantifier *matfik* ‘a little bit’ with the positive reading ‘anything at all’.

- (50) <tujash wika makichik aentsnakesh
 tuhã=fa wi=ka makitfiki aintsu=na=ki=fa
 but=ADD 1SG=TOP one person=ACC=RESTR=ADD
 etegkeatsjai.>
 itĩjki-a-tsu-ha-i
 judge-IPFV-NEG-1SG-DECL
 ‘But I pass judgement on no-one.’ (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 186; John 8:15)

- (51) <Ame machikiuchikesh dutikmainaitkumek>
 ami matʃiki-utʃi=ki=ʃa dutika-mai-inu=aita-ku-mi=ka
 2SG bit-DIM-RESTR=ADD do-POT-NMLZ=COP-SIM-2SG=TOP
 ‘If you can do anything at all...’ (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 87; Mark 9:22)

3.3 Negative derivation and nominalization

Nominalizations are widely used in Aguaruna, forming relative and complement clauses (see §2.4.5) and also functioning in lieu of finite verbs in some constructions (Overall 2014). The nominalizing suffixes are shown in Table 5.

Table 5: Nominalizing suffixes in Aguaruna (Overall 2017a: 504)

suffix	referent	stem(s) selected
-ta	action	unmarked
-inu	subject participant	unmarked or potential
-taĩ	non-subject participant	unmarked
-u	subject participant	perfective or imperfective
-mau	non-subject participant or action	perfective or imperfective
-tinu	participant + future	perfective
-tfau	participant + negation	perfective, imperfective or unmarked
-haku	subject participant + remote past	unmarked

Some nominalizers can combine with the SN negator -tfa (52), others have their negative counterpart in the nominalizer -tfau (53).

- (52) a. jutáĩ
 ju-taĩ
 eat-NMLZ
 ‘food’ (‘what is eaten’) (Overall 2017a: 66)
- b. jútfatáĩ
 ju-tʃa-taĩ
 eat-NEG-NMLZ
 ‘inedible’ (‘what is not eaten’) (SLCK)

- (53) a. <nemajin>
nima-hu-inu
follow-APPL-NMLZ
‘follower’ (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 308)
- b. <nemagchau>
nima-hu-tʃau
follow-APPL-NEG.NMLZ
‘non-follower’ (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 308)

The negative nominalizer *-tʃau* is etymologically composed of the negator *-tʃa* and nominalizer *-u*, but Overall (2017a: 513–514) presents arguments for treating it as synchronically non-compositional. In addition to nominalizing and negating verb roots, *-tʃau* also negates nominals, including nouns, adjectives and already nominalized verbs. In the case of adjectives, the negator has a derivational function in forming antonyms e.g. *piŋkiŋ-tʃau* (good-NEG.NMLZ) ‘bad’; and see §2.3 for its role in negating stative predications.

The negative nominalizer also functions to negate the derivational suffix *-tin* ‘attributive’ (54a) giving a privative sense (54b).

- (54) a. núwintin
nuwi-tinu
woman.PSSD.3-ATTR
‘married man’ (i.e. ‘possessed of a wife’) (Uwarai Yagkug et al. 1998: 88)
- b. núwintʃau
nuwi-tu-tʃau
woman.PSSD.3-ATTR-NEG.NMLZ
‘bachelor’ (Uwarai Yagkug et al. 1998: 88)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Verbal negation has clausal scope. In its derivational function, the nominal negator *-tʃau* has scope over the negated nominal: note in (55) the translation implies ‘they do [non-good]’ rather than ‘they don’t [do good]’.

- (55) <tuja aents pegkegchaushkam pegkegchaunak
 tuha aintsu piŋkiha-tfau=ʃakama piŋkiha-tfau=na=ka
 but person good-NEG=ADD good-NEG=ACC=TOP
 takaawai.>
 taka-a-wa-i
 work-IPFV-3-DECL
 ‘But bad people do bad things.’ (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 19; Matthew 7:16)

When the nominal negation strategy is used to negate a copula clause, however, it appears to scope over the whole clause including any associated dependent clauses. Note the translation of (56): ‘I am not [a dog who will be beaten]’, as opposed to ‘I am [a non-dog] who will be beaten.’

- (56) wíka jãwããtʃuithai, ihuntán
 wi=ka jawaã-tʃau=ita-ha-i ihũ-tu-hã
 1SG=TOP dog-NEG.NMLZ=COP-1SG-DECL gang.up-APPL-PFV.3.SS
 suwimám átinun
 suwima-ma a-tinu-nu
 beat.PFV-NSBJ/SBJ.COREF COP-FUT.NMLZ-1SG.SS
 ‘I am not a dog, to be beaten by gangs of people.’ (Overall 2017a: 406)

4.2 Negative polarity

An adverb *iki* ‘yet’ is favoured in negative contexts, as in (57), although it does appear in positive contexts too (as in (58)). In conversation, however, *iki* can be used alone with the sense ‘not yet’ (for example, answering a question about whether something has been done).

- (57) íki kánashai
 iki kana-a-tsu-ha-i
 yet sleep-IPFV-NEG-1SG-DECL
 ‘I am not sleeping yet.’ (Overall 2017a: 409)
- (58) <Tusa Jisus eke chichaak wajai>
 tu-sã Jisus iki tʃitʃaa-kũ waha-ĩ
 say-SUB.3.SS Jesus yet speak-IPFV-SIM.3.SS stand-IPFV-DS
 ‘As he said that, while Jesus was still speaking...’ (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 63; Matthew 26:47)

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation.

There is no obligatory marking of NPs in the scope of negation, but Overall (2017a: 584–585) notes that negated clauses favour the appearance of the topic enclitic =*ka* with one or more constituents of the clause (compare (25) and (27) above, among others). Outside of negative contexts, the topic enclitic is favoured when (re)introducing characters in narrative; for the subjects of verbless and copula clauses; marking contrast; strong assertion; and when adding editorial commentary in narratives (Overall 2017a: 581).

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The ‘not even one’ construction described in §3.2, example (50), gives an intensified negation. I am not aware of any other strategy for reinforcing negation specifically, outside of the general means for expressing speaker’s attitude in clauses.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Aguaruna has a highly hypotactic syntax, and there is no formally marked paratactic coordination. Negation of subordinate clauses, including various temporal clause types, is described in §2.4, and negation of nominalizations (which may form relative or complement clauses) is described in §3.3. The apprehensive clause type, which translates as ‘lest’, is not a subordinate clause syntactically but frequently appears in a speech report construction that links it to another clause – this is described in §2.4.4.

4.6 Diachronic notes and observations

The bulk of the grammar is identical for all of the Chicham languages, which are very closely related, but some differences are valuable indicators of the progression of grammatical change. These include different paradigms of tense markers and different arrangements of the imperative/prohibitive paradigms.

The negative existential is formed with a verb *atsu-* which cannot be analysed as morphologically compositional, as shown above (§2.3). Although this form could reflect an etymological fusion of the positive existential and the negator (cf. Veselinova 2013: 136–138), a more attractive analysis is that the negative existential verb itself is the diachronic source of the negative suffix *-tsu* through reanalysis of an auxiliation construction. As noted above (§1), there is evidence

for some verbal tense markers having arisen from phonological fusion of non-finite stems with a following finite auxiliary. This analysis would explain the aspect-based distribution of the two SN negators, by assuming that the *-tsu* suffix entered the system via some type of progressive construction, with the negative existential as auxiliary (cf. Croft 1991). The distinct strategy for negating perfective stems with the suffix *-tʃa* would then be older, and this is consistent with the fact that this marker is also the default in non-finite verb forms. In the typology developed by Croft (1991) and refined by Veselinova (2016) this is Type C: “the negative existential is used as SN but the constructions where it is used differ for the negation of verbs and for the negation of existential predications” (Veselinova 2016: 144). In Aguaruna the difference is morphological, as the separate negative existential verb *atsu-* has fused with the stem to become the suffix *-tsu*, displacing the earlier negator *-tʃa* only in imperfective finite verbs.

5 Conclusion

In Aguaruna, predicates and nominals can be negated. Verbal predicates make use of two inflectional suffixes, distributed according to aspect and finiteness of the verb, while nominal predicates must use the derivational negator. Negation marked in the predicate has clausal scope, and this is true both of verbal and nominal predicates. A distinct marker *-i* appears in some non-declarative clause types. The verbal paradigms are largely symmetrical, and the only category that is completely neutralized under negation is the plain/familiar imperative distinction (§2.2.1).

There are no dedicated negative indefinites; negative transport or negative raising is not in evidence; and there is no evidence of negation used in non-negative contexts, apart from the possibility of pleonastic negation in polar questions (see §2.2.2 above).

Table 6 gives an overview of the negative markers of Aguaruna, the word class(es) that can host each marker, and their function(s).

Future research will undoubtedly shed light on the subtleties of negation in Aguaruna, and also contribute to a better understanding of the diachronic development of the constructions described here.

Table 6: Properties of negative markers

marker	word class of host	function(s)	section
-tsu	V	Negation of finite clause types, associated with im- perfective aspect and present tense	§2.1
-tfa	V	Marks ‘without doing’ construction Negation of finite clause types, associated with per- fective aspect and non-present tenses	§2.4.3 §2.1
-i	V	Negation of subordinate clause types Negation of hortative clause type Formation of apprehensive clauses (negative equiv- alent of purpose clause type)	§2.4 §2.2.1 §2.4.4
-tfau	V, N, Adj	Negation of imperative clause types, except horta- tive Derivation of negated nominal from verb Derivation of negated form of adjective or noun Clausal negation with nonverbal predicate	§2.2.1 §3.3 §3.3 §2.3
atsu-	–	Negative existential verb	§2.3
wāās	–	Negative pro-clause ‘I don’t know why’	§2.5
atfa	–	Negative pro-sentence, in response to question ‘I don’t know’	§2.5
atsa	–	Negative pro-sentence, in response to polar ques- tion	§3.1

Acknowledgments

I gratefully acknowledge Segundo Lucio Cungumas Kujancham’s contributions to this paper, not only in providing examples but also through his insightful discussions of semantic distinctions. I am also grateful to the editors of the volume and an anonymous reviewer for very helpful comments on earlier drafts. Needless to say, I take full responsibility for the analysis presented here, and for any errors that may remain.

Abbreviations

1	first person	NP	noun phrase
2	second person	NSBJ	non-subject
3	third person	NSBJ/SBJ.COREF	non-subject in marked clause is subject of controlling clause
A	most agent-like argument of a transitive clause	OBJ	object
ABL	ablative	P	most patient-like argument of a transitive clause
ACC	accusative	PFV	perfective
ACN	action	PL	plural
ADD	additive	POT	potential
ANA	anaphoric pronoun	PROH	prohibitive
APPL	applicative	PROX	proximal
APPR	apprehensive	POSS	possessive
ATTR	attributive	PSSD	possessed
CAUS	causative	PST	past
COP	copula	Q	polar question marker
DECL	declarative	QTOP	topic marker in interrogative clause
DEM	demonstrative	RC	relative clause
DIM	diminutive	REFL	reflexive
DIST	distal	REM	remote
DS	different subject	RESTR	restrictive
EXCLAM	exclamative	S	single argument of an intransitive clause
FUT	future	SUB	subordinate
HORT	hortative	SG	singular
IMM	immediate	SIM	simultaneous
IMP	imperative	SN	standard negation
INTS	intensifier	SPECL	speculative
INTL	intentional	SS	same subject
IPFV	imperfective	TAG	tag question marker
JUSS	jussive	TOP	topic
LOC	locative	V	verb
MED	medial		
NARR	narrative		
NEG	negative		
NMLZ	nominalizer		
NORM	normative		

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Negation in Panará

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This chapter presents a detailed account of the morphosyntax of negation in Panará (Jê family, Brazil). Panará displays a wide range of strategies to express negation, with a set of negative adverbs, a negative polarity item in the polysynthetic verbal morphology, an imperative negation marker, and a negative verb. These different strategies interweave to express negation across the grammar of Panará, be it the different moods or the various types of clauses and constituents. Keywords: negation, polysynthesis, Panará, Jê languages, Amazonian languages

1 Introduction

This chapter describes negation in Panará (ISO: **kre**, Glottocode: **pana1307**), a Jê language spoken in southern Amazonia, in the Brazilian states of Pará and Mato Grosso. The Panará language (*panārapëë*) is spoken by the Panará nation, from the autonym /panāra/ ‘those that are (here)’.

The Panará people entered direct contact with neocolonial Brazilian society in 1973, as a result of the construction of highway BR-163 through their territory on the part of the Brazilian government, at the time an authoritarian military dictatorship. That led to a massive influx of settlers that turned large forested parts of Mato Grosso into areas for the production of cattle and crops such as soy and corn. The Panará lost 90% of their population due to the spread of infectious diseases, and were forcibly relocated to the nearby Xingu Indigeous Park. In the mid-1990s they were finally able to officially demarcate a portion of their original land in which the riverine forest was still intact. The Panará population moved back to their homeland on the Iriri river basin, where they made a demographic and cultural recovery.

The Panará people today live in their own officially demarcated indigenous land, the Terra Indígena Panará, spanning half a million hectares. The current Panará population, numbering approximately 650, are almost exclusively in this

area, in the villages of Kanaä, Kôtikô, Nänpôôrö, Nânsêpotiti, Sônkârasân and Sônkwê. In some of these villages there is also presence of Kayapó (speakers of Mëbêngôkre; Jê, ISO : **txu**) and Kaiabi (speakers of Kawaiwete; Tupian, ISO: **kyz**), through kinship connections with Panará living there. Presence of Portuguese as a second language, with different degrees of proficiency, is common in the Panará community. That is especially the case among young men who are currently in the age range between the teens to the fifties. Most women, older people and children have minimal proficiency in Portuguese. A solid passive knowledge of Mëbêngôkre is not unusual, but very few Panará can speak it fluently.

That the Panará speak a language of the Jê family was first hypothesized by Heelas (1979), an anthropologist and the first researcher to work with the Panará. Further research by Schwartzman (1988) and Rodrigues & Dourado (1993) confirmed that Panará is indeed a language of the Northern Jê branch of the family (Rodrigues 1999).

Panará is a polysynthetic language, in which the verb complex forms a central unit in the clause (1). This verb complex is made up of several proclitics, morphologically bound to the verbal root, that reference various clausal elements. These include core and peripheral participants, mood, directionality, iterativity, a causative applicative, and negation (Bardagil 2018).

- (1) Jy=py=ra=kö=më=ra=kwy.
INTR=ITER=3PL.ABS=COM=DU=1SG.ABS=go
'The two of us went away with them.'

Panará case marking follows an ergative alignment, with a morphologically marked ergative argument and a morphologically unmarked absolutive. Panará presents two different clause-level grammatical categories corresponding to moods, realis and irrealis, and also an imperative construction. These categories are marked by modal clitics, such as intransitive realis *jy=*, and even though their presence is largely obligatory, they are optionally omitted in marginal cases. Panará verbal morphology presents a reality status distinction between realis and irrealis (Dourado 2001, Bardagil 2015, 2018).

The data presented throughout this paper, unless otherwise indicated, were collected by the author during fieldwork among the Panará. The language is represented using the current spelling for the language. Among the Panará, current orthographic conventions use a diaeresis to represent nasality on vowels, and I have used this notation in the present text.

This paper is organized as follows. §2 provides information on clausal negation in Panará, and §3 deals with negation in non-clausal environments. Following

these, §4 describes other aspects of the morphology and syntax of negation in Panará. Finally, §5 concludes the paper and summarizes the grammar of negation in Panará.

2 Clausal negation

This section reports the negation strategies used in Panará to negate clause-level predicates.

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation is the term generally used for the mechanism or mechanisms of negation that a language employs in declarative verbal main clauses (Miestamo 2005). As we will see throughout this section, Panará displays several negators that participate in standard negation: *inkjown*, *pjow* and *rö*. There is also a verbal negation construction, *jy pjow*.

As will be seen throughout the section, standard negation does not alter the syntactic properties of Panará, such as the ergative-absolutive case marking or its quite flexible verb position in the clause (2–3).

- (2) Jy=ra=too inkjē.
 INTR=1SG.ABS=fly 1SG
 ‘I went away.’
- (3) Jahä rê=s=anpun pakjati inkjē hē.
 here 1SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=see creek 1SG ERG
 ‘Here I saw a creek.’

The most frequent mechanism for standard negation is *pjow* /pjoo/. It is an adverb that appears in a postverbal position or, more specifically, in a position immediately following the predicate head (4–5).

- (4) Jy=Ø=pôô pjow kri tä.
 INTR=3SG.ABS=arrive NEG village ALL
 ‘He didn’t come to the village.’
- (5) Rê=mä=issi pjow.
 1SG.ERG=3SG.DAT=name NEG
 ‘I didn’t name him.’

A second negation marker is *inkjown*, often rendered as [kjowm] with a reduction of the onset and a diphthongised long vowel. *Inkjown* appears in a clause-final position, taking scope over the meaning of the entire predicate (6).

- (6) Mära hē ti=Ø=pīri nānkjô inkjown, ti=Ø=pīri
 3SG ERG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=kill peccary NEG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=kill
 ikkjyti.
 tapir
 ‘He didn’t kill a peccary, he killed a tapir.’

Inkjown often appears in a clause that also has a postverbal negation marker, such as *pjow* (7).

- (7) Rê=Ø=kāri pjow swa, inkjown.
 1PL.ERG=3SG.ABS=cut NEG tooth NEG
 ‘We didn’t cut its teeth, no.’

Even though *pjow* and *inkjown* both appear as standard negators, they are different in two respects. First, *pjow* does not stand on its own as a negative interjection, unlike *inkjown* (c.f. §3.1). Second, as mentioned above, *inkjown* is restricted to a clause-final position, whereas *pjow* can only appear in an immediately postverbal position. Rather than a tendency, the data in my corpus shows a solid constraint governing these positional restrictions, as illustrated in (8–9).

- (8) Inkjē hē rê=Ø=pīri jäsy inkjown.
 1SG ERG 1SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=kill deer NEG
 ‘I didn’t kill a deer.’
- (9) Nākää hē ti=ra=nsari pjow inkjē.
 snake ERG 3SG.ERG=1SG.ABS=bite NEG 1SG
 ‘The snake didn’t bite me.’

The immediately postverbal position of *pjow* is also a position in which other types of adverbial phrases can appear (10), which supports the hypothesis that negation in that position is also phrasal.

- (10) Nākää hē ti=ra=nsari pykkôômä inkjē.
 snake ERG 3SG.ERG=1SG.ABS=bite morning 1SG
 ‘A snake bit me this morning.’

The positional alternation of *pjow* and *inkjown* is summarized below (11) in relation to the position of both the verb and argumental noun phrases in the clause.

- (11) a. (NPs) [verb complex] *pjow* (NPs)
 b. (NPs) [verb complex] (NPs) *inkjown*

A third, less common standard negation mechanism is *rö*, realized as [rõ] or [nõ]. Its position in the clause mirrors that of *pjoo* and other adverbials, between the verb complex and postverbal constituents. Even though initially Dourado (2007) reported *rö* as being a dedicated noun phrase negator, it is also used in standard negation (12–13).

- (12) Mämä ramä ra=pa rö inpy-ara, jy=ra=too.
 that INE 3PL.ABS=walk NEG man-PL INTR=3PL.ABS=fly
 ‘The men were not there, they had left.’
- (13) Nē=ri=npari rö inkj-ara, inkjown.
 1SG.ERG=3PL.ABS=hear NEG woman-PL NEG
 ‘I didn’t think about women, no.’

Panará presents a less common standard negation strategy, namely a mood-inflected verbal *pjow* that occurs following the negated clause (14). This is a different syntactic mechanism than the adverbial *pjow* that we saw in earlier examples.

- (14) [Ka hē ka=Ø=kukrē] jy=Ø=pjow.
 2SG ERG 2SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=eat INTR=3SG.ABS=NEG
 ‘You don’t eat.’

In instances such as illustrated in (14), the root *pjow* appears not as an adverb but as a verb. Consequently it is accompanied by verbal morphology belonging to intransitive verbs, like the realis intransitive modal clitic *jy*.

The verbal negator *jy pjow* (§2.1) also has an additional meaning of a state or event being finished or at an end, as in (15).

- (15) Kjětowajī jy=Ø=titi jy=Ø=pjow.
 candle INTR=3SG.ABS=burn INTR=3SG.ABS=NEG
 ‘The candle turned off.’

It can be combined with roots that are typically verbal (16), or with nominal roots (17).

- (16) Jy=ra=pëë jy=Ø=pjow.
INTR=1SG.ABS=speak INTR=3SG.ABS=NEG
'I'm done speaking.'

- (17) Jy=Ø=pjow inkô-ränkjo.
INTR=3SG.ABS=NEG water-black
'There's no more coffee.'

In irrealis clauses, the three negation adverbs presented in this chapter for standard negation are also observed (18–20).

- (18) Ka=ti=tä=ra=pari pjow kajapô hë.
IRR=2SG.IRR=DIR=1PL.ABS=kill.PLAC NEG Kayapó ERG
'The Kayapó will not kill us.'

- (19) Ka=ti=pôôj kri tä inkjown.
IRR=3SG.IRR=arrive.IRR village ALL NEG
'He won't come to the village.'

- (20) Inkjë ka=Ø=kwy rö.
1SG IRR=1SG.IRR=go NEG
'I won't go.'

Besides the presence of the negative markers, negated declarative clauses are identical to standard affirmative clauses. The very free constituent order of Panará is maintained, and no additional morphological material is present besides the negative element itself. This characterizes Panará as a language with symmetrical standard negation (Miestamo 2005), in which the structure of negatives coincides with the structure of affirmatives.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

The previous section outlined the negation mechanisms that belong to main clauses in the two moods exhibited in declaratives, realis and irrealis. This section deals with negation in non-declarative clauses, and with imperative clauses.

In Panará, imperatives are formed with second person, as is usual in the world's languages. Consequently, the second person absolutive clitic *a* is found in intransitive clauses (21), and the second person ergative *ka* in transitive ones (22).

- (21) Py=a=kwy.
DIR=2SG.ABS=go
'Go away.'

- (22) Ka=tö=Ø=krë sâti.
 2SG.ERG=INTS=3SG.ABS=eat peanut
 ‘Do eat peanuts.’

To negate an imperative clause, *sä* stands in as the negative adverb (23–25).

- (23) A=sĩ sä.
 2SG.ABS=sit NEG
 ‘Don’t sit down.’
- (24) Ka=ra=jökrepajô=kwâri sä!
 2SG.ERG=1SG.ABS=throat=break NEG
 ‘Don’t break my throat!’
- (25) Ka=Ø=ku=krë sä sokriti.
 2SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=bite=eat NEG pet
 ‘Don’t eat pets.’

Imperative negator *sä* is not attested in non-imperative clauses, and speakers judge it unacceptable in those contexts. Its position in the sentence identifies it consistently as a negative adverb, as it appears in the postverbal position where both *pjow* and *rö* are also found in non-imperatives, preceding postverbal phrasal material, as seen in (25).

In Panará, polar questions are formed by use of the question marker *a*. Question formation also uses interrogative pronouns *prẽ*, for human referents, and both *pjän* and *ju* for non-human referents (26–27).

- (26) A jy=a=söti inkin?
 Q INTR=2SG.ABS=sleep good
 ‘Did you sleep well?’
- (27) Pjän ka=Ø=wajäri?
 what 2SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=make
 ‘What are you doing?’

When a postpositional phrase contains an interrogative pronoun, pied-piping of the postposition takes place. Questions in Panará can be negated by use of the three negation markers for standard negation. The most common is *pjow* (28), with *rö* being used less (30). Negation of questions with *inkjown* is also attested (29), but also presents a lower frequency.

- (28) A ka=s=anpun pjow tititi?
Q 2SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=see NEG anteater
'Have you not seen an anteater?'
- (29) A ka hë ka=Ø=kuri impo jï inkjown?
Q 2SG ERG 2SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=eat cow meat NEG
'You don't eat beef?'
- (30) Pjăn rahê ka=tö=Ø=pyri rö?
what CAUS 2SG.ERG=EMPH=3SG.ABS=take NEG
'Why didn't you take it?'

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Panará presents two broad syntactic mechanisms that correspond to stative predication. In most instances they involve a non-verbal predicate. However, attribution is expressed by means of a verbal predicate, and existential predication is a mixed bag. In this section I introduce each of these types of stative predication and discuss the corresponding negation strategies.

In Panará, equation and inclusion are expressed paratactically, with the argument usually preceding the non-verbal predicate (31–32).

- (31) Ja inkjë jö issê.
this 1SG POSS bow
'This is my bow.'
- (32) Mära toopytun.
3SG old.man
'He is a chief/ an old man.'

When negated, equative predicates use the negative markers *pjow* (33) and *rö* (34).

- (33) Ja inkjë jö issê pjow.
this 1SG POSS bow NEG
'This is not my bow.'
- (34) Pârinto sö rö.
shellfish food NEG
'Shellfish are not food.'

Locative predication follows the same general lines of Panará non-verbal predication. The one argument is followed by the a locative phrase, headed by a post-position (35–36).

- (35) Kwy puu jamä.
manioc field ADE
‘There is manioc at the field.’
- (36) Mösy pjow kan ramä.
corn NEG basket INE
‘There is no corn in the basket.’

It is possible that Panará locatives would be better analyzed as existential clauses with locative adjuncts (Overall et al. 2018: 8–10). If this is indeed the case, (36) would present an instance of predicate-final negation with *pjow*, consistent with the distribution of *pjow* seen thus far. The existential structure of locative clauses notwithstanding, there is no dedicated verbal morphology associated with it.

Attribution stands apart from other types of stative predication in that the predicate head projects a verbal complex, rather than using the juxtaposition mechanics of non-verbal predication. Attributive predicates are fully verbal, on par with other types of intransitive verbal predicates, as can be seen from the verbal morphology present in (37–38).

- (37) Paa, jy=ra=kjä-pepeti.
yes INTR=1SG.ABS=head-soft
‘Yes, I’m smart [soft-headed].’
- (38) Mära jy=Ø=toopytun.
3SG INTR=3SG.ABS=old.man
‘He is (an) old (man).’

Contrast (38) with the equative, non-verbal counterpart in (32). Incidentally, (38) cannot mean ‘he is a chief’, suggesting that certain lexicalization processes can affect the nominal form but not the verbal form of a shared root.

The negation of attributive predicates is akin to standard negation of intransitives (39–40), as seen in the previous section (§2.1).

- (39) Jy=ra=kjä-tâti pjow.
INTR=1SG.ABS=head-hard NEG
‘I’m not dumb [hard-headed].’

- (40) Mära jy=Ø=toopytun rö.
 3SG INTR=3SG.ABS=old.man NEG
 ‘He is not (an) old (man).’

Possession and belonging more generally also fall into the category of non-verbal predication. Here Panará presents a typical distinction between alienable and inalienable possession. While inalienable possession is expressed by juxtaposition, with the possessor preceding the possessum (41), alienable possession (Nichols & Bickel 2013) is expressed adpositionally. The possessor is encoded as a possessive postpositional phrase, headed by *jö*, and is followed by the possessum (43). It is very common for possession to be negated with *rö* (42), but *pjow* is also attested (44).

- (41) Mära inpimpjâ.
 3SG husband
 ‘She has a husband.’ or ‘her husband’
- (42) Mära inpimpjâ rö.
 3SG husband NEG
 ‘She is single.’ (lit. ‘She has no husband’) or ‘(It is) not her husband.’
- (43) Inkjê jö issê.
 1SG POSS bow
 ‘I have a bow.’ or ‘my bow’
- (44) Inkjê jö issê pjow.
 1SG POSS bow NEG
 ‘I don’t have a bow.’ or ‘(It is) not my bow.’

In verbal possessive constructions the lexical root for the possessum appears as the verb in the clause, rather than as an argument, and possession is indicated as a proclitic morpheme (45). This is consistent with the observation by (Dourado 2001: 76) that, in these constructions, negative adverb *pjow* appears after the possessum, and not after the morpheme *sö* indicating possession in the verbal complex (46).

- (45) Kjonpe jy=sö=kukre.
 Kjonpe INTR=POSS=house
 ‘Kjonpe has a house.’

- (46) Kjonpe jy=sö=kukre pjow.
 Kjonpe INTR=POSS=house NEG
 ‘Kjonpe doesn’t have a house.’

The verb *pan* ‘to walk’ is often used to indicate both existential and locative constructions, with a preference for animate arguments (47). Although it exhibits the verbal morphology associated to intransitive verbs, it often appears without it (48).¹

- (47) Joopy ra=pan.
 jaguar 3PL.ABS=walk
 ‘There are jaguars.’

- (48) Ju rī ka pan?
 what LOC 2SG walk
 ‘Where are you?’

Existential and locative use of *pan* can be negated using either *rö* or *pjow* (49). Once again, it is unclear whether *inkjown* is also licensed in these contexts besides as the negative reply, as in (50).

- (49) Ippë pan rö.
 non-indigenous walk NEG
 ‘There were no white people.’
- (50) Inkjown, Kōtikō rī ra=pan pjow.
 no Kōtikō LOC 1SG.ABS=walk NEG
 ‘No, I’m not in Kōtikō.’

Inkjown is present in most, if not all classes of stative predicates. It appears in its usual clause-final position (51–52), but with non-verbal predicates it can also appear in an initial position (53–54). This position for *inkjown* is not available in verbal clausal contexts. Its distribution, the fact that it shows a broad scope over the entire predication, and its use as a standalone negative reply make *inkjown* a solid candidate for a negative existential (Veselinova 2013).

¹Having unrealized proclitics on the verb complex is not frequent, but not uncommon in Panará verbal morphology.

- (51) “Ka=Ø=kân=Ø=sün ja: ka=ra=nĩri pjow.
IRR=1SG.IRR=2SG.DAT=1SG.IRR=tell this 2SG.ERG=3PL.ABS=have.sex NEG
Inkjara inkjown,” ti=Ø=jãri.
woman-PL NEG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=say
‘‘I will say this to you: don’t have sex. No women,’’ he said.’
- (52) Sõ inkjown.
food NEG
‘(There is) no food,’ or ‘It’s not food.’
- (53) Inkjown pakwa kjokjo.
NEG banana ripe
‘[There are] no ripe bananas.’
- (54) Inkjown kjorinpe.
NEG rice
‘[There is] no rice.’

Both *pjow* and *rõ* can appear together with *inkjown*. In such cases, *inkjown* should be seen in its negative reply function (§3.1) rather than as clause-final negation (55).

- (55) Atõ pjow, inkjown.
gun NEG no
‘There is no gun, no.’

Panará uses two syntactic mechanisms to form the different classes of stative predicates: non-verbal predication, and verbal predication. The three standard negation mechanisms are also employed in stative predicates. While *pjow* is the negation marker that can occur with all subtypes of stative predication, *rõ* is also employed. However, these two negative adverbs are not completely interchangeable – especially so in the case of existential and possessive predicates, where their semantics are quite different. *Inkjown* is also a negative marker in non-verbal contexts, but it has a strong tendency to appear clause-initially instead of its clause-final position in main clause negation.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In the previous section we saw the three syntactic mechanisms used in Panará for main clause negation: postverbal adverbs *pjow* and *rõ*, and clause-final *inkjown*, besides imperative-exclusive *sã*.

The following examples show instances of relative and complement clauses negated using *pjow* (56–57), *rö* (58) and *inkjown* (59).

- (56) Kuupêri hë ti=Ø=sün inkin pjow inkô-ränkjo.
 Kuupêri ERG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=say good NEG water-black
 ‘Kuupêri said that he doesn’t like coffee.’
- (57) Patty hë ti=Ø=pîra pjow jäsy rê=Ø=pîri.
 Patty ERG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=kill.REL NEG deer 1SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=kill
 ‘I killed the deer that Patty didn’t kill.’
- (58) Mära hë ti=Ø=pyri inkö s=aswâri rö amä.
 3SG ERG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=take water 3SG.ABS=spill NEG INE
 ‘She brought the water without spilling it.’
- (59) Inpy hë ti=ra=sun rê=tö=Ø=pyri pjow
 man ERG 3SG.ERG=1SG.ABS=say 1SG.ERG=EMPH=3SG.ABS=take NEG
 atö-sy.
 gun-grain
 ‘The man said to me that I didn’t bring any ammunition.’

Just like in main clause negation, *rö* is less frequent than *pjow* but nonetheless attested. The example in (60) shows a final construction in which negation is indicated with *rö* in both the main clause and the subordinate clause.

- (60) Ka hë ka=kjê=Ø=sun rö ra=kwy y rö ahê.
 2SG ERG 2SG.ERG=1SG.DAT=3SG.ABS=say NEG 1SG.ABS=go NEG FNL
 ‘You didn’t tell me not to go.’

Besides main clauses and phrasal constituents, the verbal negator *jy pjow* can also negate non-main clauses, such as the temporal clause in (61).

- (61) Inkjê-mëra në=Ø=kuri mï sö jy=Ø=pjow rahä.
 1SG-PL 1PL.ERG=3SG.ABS=eat caiman food INTR=3SG.ABS=NEG ADE
 ‘We eat caiman when we run out of food.’

In the case of adpositional subordinate clauses, the addition of a negative marker to a final or purpose clause can result in the equivalent of something like ‘in order not to’ in English. An example of a negative final subordinate clause is given in (62).

- (62) Ka=mä=Ø=sun jy=Ø=tëë rö ahê.
 2SG.ERG=3SG.DAT=3SG.ABS=say INTR=3SG.ABS=leave NEG FNL
 ‘You told him not to leave.’

3 Non-clausal negation

This section presents the ways in which Panará exhibits non-clausal negation. The same negation markers seen in clausal negation, *pjow*, *rö* and *inkjown*, are also found in non-clausal contexts.

3.1 Negative replies

In Panará, polar questions can be answered by the use of the corresponding affirmative or negative word. The affirmative reply, conveying a positive polarity answer to the question (Moser 2018, Enfield et al. 2019), is the word *paa~ngaa~haa* (63). The affirmative reply can also stand on its own, so that (63A) can be just “*paa*”.

- (63) Q: A jy=a=inkin ka?
 Q INTR=2SG.ABS=good 2SG
 ‘Are you good?’
 A: Paa, inkin pytinsi.
 yes good very
 ‘Yes, very good.’

The negative counterpart *inkjown* conveys a negative polarity answer (64), and coincides with a root that we already saw functioning as a standard negator in §2.1.

- (64) Q: Ju rĩ pan ka? Guarantã?
 Q LOC walk 2SG Guarantã
 ‘Where are you? In Guarantã?’
 A: Inkjown, Casai Peixoto rĩ ra=pan.
 no house Peixoto LOC 1SG.ABS=walk
 ‘No, I’m at the healthcare house² in Peixoto.’

²CASAI: Casa da Saúde Indígena (indigenous healthcare house). These are government houses that serve as residence for indigenous people undergoing medical treatment in the city, and where basic healthcare is administered.

HC: @LSP
 check the last
 reference to ex
 63A, did you
 find a solution
 for labels with-
 ing xlist?

It is not uncommon for the negative reply to appear following a negative clause, after a prosodic break (65–66).

- (65) Ti=ra=nsari pjow. Inkjown.
 3SG.ERG=1SG.ABS=bite NEG no
 ‘It did not bite me. No.’
- (66) Nê=ri=npari rō inkj-ara, inkjown.
 1SG.ERG=3PL.ABS=hear NEG woman-PL NEG
 ‘I didn’t think about women, no.’

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Panará does not have lexicalized negative indefinites. The meaning of roots such as ‘nobody’ in English is usually conveyed in Panará by saying that something was not done or did not take place, as in (67). In some cases, the interrogative pronoun *prê* appears negated with a meaning equivalent to ‘nobody.’ This is shown in the following examples (68–69).

- (67) Q: Prê jy=Ø=têë tepi suu?
 Q who INTR=3SG.ABS=leave fish
 ‘Who went fishing?’
- A: Jy=Ø=têë pjow.
 INTR=3SG.ABS=leave NEG
 ‘(S)he didn’t go (intended: Nobody went.)’
- (68) Jy=Ø=too pjow prê.
 INTR=3SG.ABS=fly NEG who
 ‘Nobody went away.’
- (69) Prê hê pjow ti=Ø=inkô=kujä.
 who ERG NEG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=water=carry
 ‘Nobody carried water.’

The equivalent of ‘nothing’ is also not lexicalized in Panará. Usually it is expressed via a negation marker, such as *pjow* or *rō* (70), and usually also the negative polarity item *tō* (71).

- (70) Poswa jy=mä=sâpêri toopytun mä, ti=ho=Ø=pjy pjow.
 Poswa INTR=DAT=work old.man DAT 3SG.ERG=INS=3SG.ABS=get NEG
 ‘Poswa worked for the chief and got nothing.’

- (71) Mära hë ti=tö=Ø=swâri rö.
3SG ERG 3SG.ERG=EMPH=3SG.ABS=to.fish NEG
'He didn't fish anything.'

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Panará lacks an abessive or an equivalent grammatical case to express absence or lack of something. Instead, with nouns the mechanisms used in standard negation are also used to negate existential predication (72–73), as described in §2.3.

- (72) Inkjown tepi.
NEG fish
'There is no fish.'

- (73) Mära ippëë rö.
3SG speech NEG
'He is mute.'

Absence or lacking of something is usually expressed with the negator *rö* (see §4.1). Adjectives are negated using also standard negation mechanisms (§2.1), such as *pjow* (74).

- (74) Asâ pjow topjâpjâ Jakjô.
fierce NEG grandfather Jakjô
'Grandfather Jakjô was not grumpy.'

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Two major crosslinguistic patterns have been observed in the interaction of negation and disjunction (Szabolcsi 2004): negation taking scope over disjunction, such as in English (75), and disjunction taking scope over negation, as in Hungarian (76).

- (75) English (Szabolcsi & Haddican 2004: 219)
Mary didn't take hockey or algebra.
'Mary took neither hockey nor algebra.'

- (76) Hungarian (Szabolcsi & Haddican 2004: 219)
 Mari nem járt hokira vagy algebrára.
 Mari not went hockey-to or algebra-to
 ‘Mary didn’t take hockey or didn’t take algebra.’

The way in which disjunction is realized syntactically in Panará is via juxtaposition of the disjuncts (77). This contrasts with conjunction, where each conjunct is additionally marked with *mě* (78).

- (77) Perankô hě ti=Ø=pîri ikkijti jäsy.
 Perankô ERG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=kill tapir deer
 ‘Perankô killed a tapir or a deer.’
- (78) Perankô hě ti=Ø=pîri ikkijti mẽ jäsy mẽ.
 Perankô ERG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=kill tapir and deer and
 ‘Perankô killed a tapir and a deer.’

The meaning that emerges in contexts where disjunction is negated, such as in (79), suggests that Panará patterns like English in this aspect and that negation takes scope over disjunction.

- (79) Ka hě ka=Ø=kuri pjow kôôtita jî inpo jî.
 2SG ERG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=eat NEG chicken meat cow meat
 ‘You won’t eat chicken meat and you won’t eat cow meat.’

It is worth noting that the negation markers *pjow* and *rö* exhibit a difference in the scope of negation when interacting with the existential and possessive constructions (§2.3). While *pjow* still expresses predicate-level negation (80), *rö* carries instead a reading of absence (81).

- (80) a. Mära inpimpjâ pjow.
 3SG husband NEG
 ‘She has no husband.’
 b. Kukre pjow.
 house NEG
 ‘(There are) no houses.’
- (81) a. Mära inpimpjâ rö.
 3SG husband NEG
 ‘She is husband-less,’ or ‘She is single.’

- b. Kukre rö.
house NEG
'Without a house.'

4.2 Negative polarity

Even though some elements, such as reinforcer *tö* (§4.4), can combine their semantics with negation, no proper negative polarity items have been found so far in Panará.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

In Panará, no morphological effect is observed on noun phrases that occur under the scope of negation. There is no dedicated negative determiner, just as there is no determiner more generally, and case marking remains the same as otherwise (82–83).

- (82) Joopy hë ti=Ø=pïri kôôtita.
jaguar ERG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=kill chicken
'The jaguar killed a chicken.'
- (83) Joopy hë ti=Ø=pïri pjow kôôtita.
jaguar ERG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=kill NEG chicken
'The jaguar didn't kill a chicken.'

4.4 Reinforcing negation

In Panará, negation can be signaled or stressed multiple times in order to achieve an effect of reinforcing a negative meaning. One very common strategy is the use of the verbal proclitic *tö*. In its use in positive polarity contexts, *tö* functions as a modal particle with an epistemic or mirative component. Its meaning relates to the attitude of interlocutors towards the predicate, of stressing or insisting on, as exemplified in (84–85).

- (84) Rê=tö=Ø=py kâjasâ.
1SG.ERG=EMPH=3SG.ABS=take machete
'I did take a machete.'
- (85) Ka=tö=Ø=krë sâti!
2SG.ERG=EMPH=3SG.ABS=eat peanut
'Do eat peanuts!'

In negative polarity contexts, *tö* references negation in the verbal complex and contributes an emphatic element to the negative meaning (86–87).

- (86) a. Rê=k=anpun pjow inkjê hê ka.
 1SG.ERG=2SG.ABS=see NEG 1SG ERG 2SG
 ‘I didn’t see you.’
 b. Rê=a=tö=npun pjow inkjê hê ka.
 1SG.ERG=2SG.ABS=EMPH=see NEG 1SG ERG 2SG
 ‘I never saw you.’
- (87) Rê=nākāā=tö=pīri pjow inkjê hê.
 1SG.ERG=snake=EMPH=kill NEG 1SG ERG
 ‘I absolutely did not kill a snake.’

As several examples throughout this chapter show, it is not uncommon for negation to be indicated by more than one element in a sentence. The context to example (88) is that the consultant is recounting that an old chief called Jakjô was very *swakjörä*: he advised and guided other people. Jakjô would say ‘no’ to something ill-advised, and the person would absolutely not do it. This is conveyed in the second sentence of the example, which indicates negation with postverbal *pjow*, the negative reinforcer *tö* in the verbal complex, and clause-final *inkjown*.

- (88) “Inkjown,” ti=Ø=järi. Ti=ra=tö=kwajäri pjow,
 no 3SG.ERG=3PL.ABS=say 3SG.ERG=3PL.ABS=EMPH=make NEG
 inkjown.
 NEG
 “‘No,” [Jakjô] said. He [someone else] did not do it, no.’

The adverb *pytinsi* ‘very’ can be used as another mechanism to reinforce negation (89). It is also used with *jy pjow* (90).

- (89) Rê=ri=npari rö pytinsi.
 3PL.ERG=3PL.ABS=hear NEG very
 ‘They didn’t hear them at all.’
- (90) Inkjê-mëra jö kyypa to jy=Ø=pjow pytinsi.
 1SG-PL POSS land really INTR=3SG.ABS=NEG very
 ‘Our land is very much gone.’

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Panará does not exhibit dedicated negative coordinators or subordinators. The equivalent of a “neither... nor” sentence in Panará is expressed by a standard negation element such as *pjow* and the usual symmetric conjunction with *më* mentioned in §4.1.

- (91) Rê=s=anpun pjow Kuupêri më Kypakjä më.
 1SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=see NEG Kuupêri and Kypakjä and
 ‘I saw neither Kuupêri nor Kypakjä.’

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

As mentioned by Salanova (2007), Alves (2010), in other Jê languages, such as Timbira, Mëbêngôkre (92) or Kîsêdjê (93), negation consists of a negative verb that selects the negated element as its dependent, and which appears linearly after the negated clause or phrase (Salanova in prep, Alves & Gildea 2020).

- (92) [Aje Ø=krên] kêt.
 2SG.ERG 3SG.ABS=eat.NML NEG
 ‘You don’t eat.’
- (93) [Kare Ø=khuru] khêrê.
 2SG.ERG 3SG.ABS=eat.NML NEG
 ‘You didn’t eat.’ (Nonato 2014: 7)

Panará *jypjow* (94), discussed in §2.1, could be considered truly analogous to Jê negation by means of a negative verb that selects the negated clause.

- (94) [Ka hë ka=Ø=ku=krë] jy=Ø=pjow.
 2SG ERG 2SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=chew=eat INTR=3SG.ABS=NEG
 ‘You don’t eat.’

5 Conclusion

Panará presents itself as a language with a robust morphosyntax of negation. Several lexical roots and several syntactic mechanisms are used to express negation, ranging from adverbs to nouns and verbs. These are summarized in Table 1.

Of these, *pjow* is the least marked negator: it is compatible with all types of clause-level negation except for imperatives, and also participates in phrasal

negation. It is by far the most frequent negation marker. *Rö* is a less frequent counterpart of *pjow*, sharing its position as a postverbal negative adverb. These two markers lean in opposite directions regarding their favoured constituents, *pjow* being more often used with clausal negation and *rö* with phrasal negation, although both can negate different categories of constituents.

Inkjown does double duty as the negative reply and a clause-final standard negation marker. Its canonical clause-final position suggests that perhaps it should be considered a negative predicate, in line with negation as usually employed in other Jê languages. However, it is different from *jypjow*, the verbal use of *pjow*, in the lack of corresponding verbal morphology.

One characteristic of Panará negation is its imperviousness to grammatical categories. With the exception of imperatives, which exhibit a dedicated negation marker *sã*, the different grammatical environments that are relevant in Panará morphosyntax are largely compatible with the standard negation mechanisms.

Table 1: Negation in Panará

<i>pjow</i>	declarative	(NP) + V + <i>pjow</i> + (NP)
	interrogative	Q + (NP) V + <i>pjow/rö</i> + (NP)
	stative	stative pred. + <i>pjow</i>
		NP + <i>pjow</i> + locative pred.
		(NP) + stative V + <i>pjow</i> + (NP)
		possessive pred. + <i>pjow</i>
		possessive V + <i>pjow</i>
	non-main clause	(NP) + V + <i>pjow</i> + (NP)
	adjective	NP(N+Adj) + <i>pjow</i>
	indefinite	interr. pron. + NEG
		a. nobody: <i>prë ... pjow</i> b. nothing: <i>pjän ... pjow</i>
<i>jy pjow</i>	declarative	a. clause + <i>jy=Ø=pjow</i> b. <i>jy=Ø=pjow</i> + clause
<i>rö</i>	declarative	(NP) + V + <i>rö</i> + (NP)
	interrogative	Q + (NP) + V + <i>rö</i> + (NP)
	stative	stative pred. + <i>rö</i>
		NP + <i>rö</i> + locative pred.
		(NP) + stative V + <i>rö</i> + (NP)
	non-main clause	(NP) + V + <i>rö</i> + (NP)
	adjective	NP(N+Adj) + <i>rö</i>
<i>inkjown</i>	abessive	NP + <i>rö</i>
	declarative	(NP) + V + (NP) + <i>inkjown</i>
	interrogative	Q + (NP) + V + (NP) + <i>inkjown</i>
	stative	stative pred. + <i>inkjown</i>
		<i>inkjown</i> + existential pred.
<i>sä</i>	non-main	(NP) + V + (NP) + <i>inkjown</i>
		<i>inkjown</i> + (XP / clause)
<i>tö</i>	negative reply	
	imperative	(NP)+ V + <i>sä</i> + (NP)
<i>tö</i>	reinforcement	(NP) + <i>tö=V +NEG</i> + (NP)

Acknowledgements

I want to express my gratitude to my Panará informants and language teachers, especially Perankô, Kypakjä, Akââ, Jôôtu and Kabakra, as well as my adoptive family in the Kwakjatantêra clan and the people in the village of Nânsêpotiti. I would also like to thank the editors of this volume, Matti Miestamo and Ljuba Veselinova – in particular Matti, who already brought the topic of negation to Amazonia in 2016 at the Amazónicas VI conference, in Leticia and Tabatinga. I am grateful to Héloïse Calame for her support in the editing process, and also to João Paulo Denófrio, Jack Hoeksema and Ares Llop for valuable discussions and input. Part of the research presented here was funded by an individual grant from the Endangered Languages Documentation Programme (ELDP).

Abbreviations

1	first person		
2	second person	INS	instrumental
3	third person	INTS	intensifier
ABS	absolutive	INTR	intransitive
ADE	adessive	IRR	irrealis
ALL	allative	ITER	iterative
CAUS	causative	LOC	locative
COM	comitative	NML	nominal form
DAT	dative	NEG	negative
DIR	directional	PL	plural
DU	dual	PLAC	pluractional
EMPH	emphasis	POSS	possessive
ERG	ergative	Q	interrogative
FNL	final	REL	relative
INE	inessive	SG	singular

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Negation in Mapudungun

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This paper outlines the basics of negation in Mapudungun (South America). Three negative suffixes occur in verbal clauses (*-la*, *-ki*, and *-nu*), and one negative particle occurs in nonverbal clauses (*nu*). The distribution of the negative suffixes is governed by finiteness and mood; tense, aspect, and other grammatical factors are irrelevant for the above allomorphy. Most stative predications are expressed by verbal clauses. However, equational predications can also be expressed by nonverbal clauses. With stative predications, therefore, the occurrence of the negators follows the verbal-nonverbal clause divide. Other than the negator *-nu* also occurring in negative indefinites, the language does not show any negative derivation. Lastly, there is an interesting distribution of the verbs *ngen* and *mülen* in existential predications; the former is also an individual-level copular predicate and the latter also a stage-level one, but with existentials this opposition appears to be neutralized and *ngen* seems to be the preferred option in the negative, while *mülen* is employed in the affirmative.

Keywords: finiteness, existential predication, Mapudungun, nonverbal predication, stative predication.

1 Introduction

The Mapuche language or Mapudungun (ISO: [arn](#), Glottocode: [mapu1245](#)) is a linguistic isolate and is currently spoken mostly in south-central and central Chile, but also in central Argentina ([Simons & Fennig 2018](#)). The total number of speakers is somewhat uncertain, ranging from 100,000 when considering only high-fluency speakers to some 250,000 when including semi-speakers; passive speakers seem to be numerous ([Zúñiga & Olate 2017](#)). The language had some contact with (southern) Quechuan around the time of the Spanish invasion; since then, and especially since the late 19th century, contact with Chilean and Argentinian Spanish has been intense. Its name is spelled *Mapuzugun* or *Mapuzungun* when following other orthographic conventions found in the contemporary literature;

I use the Chilean version of the convention called *Alfabeto Mapuche Unificado* for the data presented here. There are several regional varieties of the language, but differences among them are rather modest, despite occasional claims to the contrary – which is one of several reasons for not following the *Ethnologue* or *Glottolog* in postulating an “Araucanian” family. I address the dialect called Central Mapudungun in the present paper.

Mapudungun morphology ranges from synthetic to polysynthetic. Nominal morphology is relatively simple, with virtually no inflection and only limited derivational affixation, but with productive compounding capabilities. Verbal morphology, by contrast, is highly complex: despite lexical affixation being rather limited, there are numerous templatic slots, productive NP incorporation, and multi-radical verb stems (Zúñiga 2017). The morphology is predominantly suffixing and “agglutinative” (i.e., there is no flexivity, and most morphemes show simple exponence and combine concatenatively to form words). With respect to syntax, there are both nominal and verbal clauses. The latter distinguish two kinds of transitive clauses, viz. direct and inverse (Zúñiga 2006: Ch. VII; Haude & Zúñiga 2016). Constituent order patterns seem to have been predominantly VSO in the past; possibly under the influence of Spanish, SVO patterns have become more frequent of late (Zúñiga 2006: Ch. VII).

Based upon original data and the extant descriptions of Mapudungun, this paper presents an outline of negation in the language according to the guiding principles detailed in Veselinova (2014) and Miestamo (2017), as well as the questionnaire prepared by the editors of this volume. Essentially the same analysis –but a slightly different framing– is presented in a companion article published by the author and colleagues (Olate et al. 2020). (Unless otherwise specified, examples come from my own field notes.) §2 and §3 present clausal and non-clausal negation, respectively. §4 closes the paper with suggestions for further research.

2 Clausal negation

Mapudungun has four clausal negative morphemes, viz. three verbal suffixes (*-la*, *-ki*, and *-nu*) and one marker usually thought of as negative particle or negative adverb (*nu*).¹ While *-la* and *-ki* are only found with indicative and imperative verb forms, respectively (§2.1 and §2.2), *-nu* is found with all other verbs (e.g., with subjunctive and nonfinite forms; §2.4), and *nu* appears with nonverbal elements

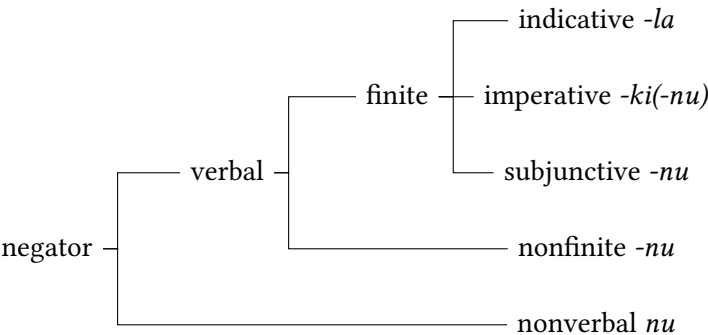
¹The old negator *müg* does not seem to be in use anymore; see §3.1 for more details.

(e.g., in nominal clauses; §2.3.7).² The markers’ distribution is essentially based on mood and finiteness, as summarized in Table 1 below.

Table 1: Overview of clausal negators

Verbal			Nonverbal
Finite		Nonfinite	
Indicative	Imperative	Subjunctive	
-la	-ki(-nu)	-nu	nu

HC: @Sebastian/LSP: could you either make the table look clearer, or if you take the tree, make the subj + nonfinite come together to a single -nu. See outcommented explanation right below. Thanks!



2.1 Standard negation

Declarative main clauses are headed by a verb in the *i*-marked indicative mood and are negated by suffixing *-la* to the verbal predicate, as in (1).

- (1) a. La-le-i tüfa-chi üñüm.
die-RES-IND[3SG] this-ATTR bird
‘This bird has died.’
b. La-le-la-i tüfa-chi üñüm.
die-RES-NEG-IND[3SG] this-ATTR bird
‘This bird has not died.’

The standard negator *-la* shows neither phonologically nor lexically conditioned allomorphy (unlike other derivational and inflectional suffixes on the verb,

²Valdivia (1606: 23) mentions that the variety spoken in Santiago by the turn of the 16th century showed *-nu* with some persons in indicative forms as well. I have not found this phenomenon in present-day varieties.

which do have phonologically conditioned variants). Moreover, aspectual and/or temporal distinctions do not appear to interact with the standard negator in any way. The only notable exception is the bimorphemic expression of the cessative ('no longer, not anymore'), which consists of *-we* 'already' and negative *-la* (cf. analogous Spanish *ya no*) (2a). There is no dedicated *nondum* 'not yet' element (Veselinova 2017); this meaning is expressed by combining *petu* 'still' with negative *-la* (cf. analogous Spanish *aún no*) (2b).

- (2) a. Kūpa-tu-mu-we-la-a-n yod.
 come-APPL-2>1.ELS-already-NEG-FUT-1SG.IND more
 'You (NSG) do not keep coming for me.'³ (Salas 2006: 215)
- b. Petu la-le-la-i.
 still die-RES-NEG-IND[3SG]
 'S/he has not yet died.'

Lastly, standard negation is symmetrical, both constructionally (i.e., the morphological make-up of indicative verb forms does not change in any other way when negated) and paradigmatically (i.e., the same grammatical categories are available in the affirmative and the negative).

2.2 Negation in non-declarative main clauses

In Mapudungun, structurally special non-declarative main clause types exist for commands, but not for questions. Commands are typically expressed with the zero-marked imperative mood (3a) and were presumably negated with *-ki* in an erstwhile transparent form that is no longer in use (3b).⁴

- (3) a. Langüm-fi-nge tüfa-chi üñüm!
 kill-3OBJ-2SG.IMP this-ATTR bird
 'Kill this bird!'
- b. * Langüm-ki-fi-nge tüfa-chi üñüm!
 kill-NEG-3OBJ-2SG.IMP this-ATTR bird
 (Reconstructed, intended meaning: 'Don't kill this bird!')

³This future indicative form can be used either to describe a state of affairs (and be translated in the indicative) or as a polite way to avoid the more direct and potentially rude imperative (and be translated as 'do not keep coming for me!').

⁴The only prohibitive forms given in Valdivia (1606: 23a–b) have negated subjunctive forms, cf. *elu-l-m-i* 'if you (sg) give' vs. *elu-ki-l-m-i* 'don't (sg) give'. It may well be the case, of course, that this "hybrid" morphological make-up was the original. See also Footnote 6.

Actual present-day negated forms follow two basic patterns, namely one (“subjunctive-like”) for all person-number values in which the form takes subjunctive *-l* and subjunctive person-number markers (4a), and one (“hybrid”) for 2SG and 3rd person forms in which subjunctive *-l* co-occurs with (affirmative) imperative person-number markers (4b).⁵ Both patterns show variation regarding whether *-ki* or *-ki-nu* is used as negator; the double marker *-ki-nu* is often found with subjunctive-like forms and occasionally found with hybrid forms.⁶

- (4) a. Langüm-ki-(nu)-fi-l-m-i tüfa-chi üñüm!
 kill-NEG-NEG-3OBJ-SBJV-2-SG this-ATTR bird
 b. Langüm-ki-(nu)-fi-l-nge tüfa-chi üñüm!
 kill-NEG-NEG-3OBJ-SBJV-2SG.IMP this-ATTR bird
 Both: ‘Don’t kill this bird!’

The morphological make-up of monopersonal forms (i.e., those marking only the person of their subject) is schematically summarized in Tables 2(a)-2(b) below. Note in Table 2(a) the essentially agglutinative pattern for most markers built upon a mood marker (*-l* ‘SBJV’, zero imperative), a person marker (*-i* ‘1’, *-m* ‘2’ and zero third), and a number marking (*-i* ‘SG’, *-u* ‘DU’ and *-n* ‘PL’). The portmanteaus that deviate from this are most of the 1SG/2SG markers: *-li* ‘1SG.SBJV’, *-chi* ‘1SG.IMP’, and *-nge* ‘2SG.IMP’. 3rd-person markers show some portmanteaus as well (*-le* ‘3SG.SBJV’ and *-pe* ‘3.IMP’), and 3NSG forms include a *ng* element to which the dual and plural endings are affixed, which is bound to the verb in the subjunctive but still somewhat detached in the imperative (see Zúñiga 2014 for details). The 3rd-person hybrid forms in Table 2(b) show some variation between affixing the bare mood marker *-l* and the 3-person-imperative portmanteau *-le*.

Mapudungun negation can be classified as belonging to Type IV in van der Auwera & Lejeune (with Valentin Goussev)’s (2013) model: 2SG prohibitives use a construction other than the 2SG affirmative imperative and a sentential negator not found in the indicative. Only the reconstructed forms (3b) are constructionally symmetrical; both subjunctive-like and hybrid prohibitives show mood-person-number marking that differs from their affirmative counterpart’s. As to

⁵Salas (2006: 146) distinguishes *nu-l*-forms from *ki(-nu)-l*-forms using the terms “(negative) hypothetical subjunctive” and “(negative) volitive subjunctive,” respectively. I am grateful to Aldo Olate for reminding me of this alternative terminology.

⁶To judge from the presentation and indirect comments found in older sources (Valdivia 1606: 23–24 and Augusta 1903: 166–167), the subjunctive-like pattern might be older than the hybrid one, and the single negator *-ki* definitely appears to be older than the double negator *-ki-nu*. Moesbach (1962: 124–126) treats the marker *-ki-nu* as a third monomorphemic allomorph in its own right (with a different first vowel, viz. “*kenú* or *kenó*”).

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Table 2: Selected monopersonal endings

(a) Selected monopersonal endings I

	subjunctive		imperative (SBJV-like)	
	AFF	NEG	AFF ^a	NEG
1SG	-li	-nu-li	-chi	(unattested)
1DU	-l-i-u	-nu-l-i-u	-i-u	-ki(-nu)-l-i-u
1PL	-l-i-n	-nu-l-i-n	-i-n	-ki(-nu)-l-i-n
2SG	-l-m-i	-nu-l-m-i	-nge	-ki(-nu)-l-m-i
2DU	-l-m-u	-nu-l-m-u	-m-u	-ki(-nu)-l-m-u
2PL	-l-m-n	-nu-l-m-n	-m-n	-ki(-nu)-l-m-n
3SG	-le	-nu-le	-pe	-ki(-nu)-le
3DU	-l-ng-u	-nu-l-ng-u	-pe eng-u	-ki(-nu)-le eng-u
3PL	-l-ng-n	-nu-l-ng-n	-pe eng-n	-ki(-nu)-le eng-n

(b) Selected monopersonal endings II

	subjunctive		imperative (hybrid)	
	AFF	NEG	AFF	NEG
2SG	-l-m-i	-nu-l-m-i	-nge	-ki(-nu)-l-nge
3SG	-le	-nu-le	-pe	-ki(-nu)-l(e)-pe
3DU	-l-ng-u	-nu-l-ng-u	-pe eng-u	-ki(-nu)-l(e)-pe eng-u
3PL	-l-ng-n	-nu-l-ng-n	-pe eng-n	-ki(-nu)-l(e)-pe eng-n

^aRather than being imperatives in the strict sense of the term, first-person forms and third-person forms are hortatives and jussives, respectively. The 1sg form usually has an optative or a “declarative” value, e.g. *tripa-chi!* ‘I’d like to go out; OK, I’m going to get out now!’ (Salas 2006: 96).

paradigmatic asymmetry, it is also important to note that some dedicated polypersonal imperative forms are no longer in use (either subjunctive-like or hybrid, either affirmative or negative); for instance, 2SG>1SG interactions are routinely expressed by the future indicative (see the footnote to (2a) above and Smeets 2008: 185f for more details).⁷

2.3 Negation in stative predications

2.3.1 Introduction

First note that there are two stative copular/existential verbs in Mapudungun, which play an important role in what follows. One is *ngen* ‘be/exist₁’; it is an individual-level (i.e., permanent-state) predicate and roughly corresponds to Ibero-Romance *ser*. The other is *mülen* ‘be/exist₂’; it is a stage-level (i.e., temporary-state) predicate and roughly corresponds to Ibero-Romance *estar*.⁸ (The opposition between *ngen* and *mülen* is unlikely to be contact-induced, due to its age – both verbs appear with the present-day values in the oldest description of the language (1606) – and apparent consistency – I am not aware of any significant variation regarding the semantics of these verbs, other than some uses of *mülen* that are not parallel to Spanish *estar*.)

Equation is expressed by nominal clauses in Mapudungun and therefore always uses *nu*; all other subtypes of stative constructions (i.e., proper inclusion, property attribution, existence, location, and possession) are expressed by verbal clauses and therefore show the mood- and finiteness-related allomorphy shown in §2.1–2.3.

2.3.2 Proper inclusion

Proper inclusion is typically expressed via verbalization with *-nge* (< *nge-* ‘be₁’ in (5) and (6); but see also §5 below).

- (5) a. Witran-nge-i.
 visitor-be₁-IND[3SG]
 ‘S/he is a visitor.’

⁷An analysis of the complex make-up of Mapudungun polypersonal forms lies beyond the scope of the present paper. The interested reader is referred to Zúñiga (2006: Ch. VII) and the appropriate sections in Augusta (1903), Salas (2006) and Smeets (2008).

⁸There are two homophonous *n*-suffixes in Mapudungun, one of them finite (‘1SG.IND’) and the other non-finite (‘INF’). *Ngen*, *mülen*, and other verbs in the running text are given in the usual infinitive citation form.

- c. Kurü-i ti ruka.
 black(en)-IND[3SG] art house
 ‘The house blackened / is black.’ (Sp. *ser*)
- c’. Kurü-la-i ti ruka.
 black(en)-NEG-IND[3SG] ART house
 ‘The house did not blacken / is not black.’ (Sp. *ser*)

2.3.4 Location

In addition to *müle-* ‘be₂’, three productive suffixes express the same notion and are commonly found together with other verbs, namely *-le* (< *müle-* ‘be₂’), *-nie* (< *nie-* ‘have’, cf. §2.3.6), and *-künu* (< *künu-* ‘leave’). Example (8) shows only an affirmative verb form, but the negative would use the standard negator *-la* (*payla-künu-tu-rke-la-fi*).

- (8) a. Müle-ka-i ruka mew.
 be₂-CONT-IND[3SG] house POSP
 ‘S/he is still in the house.’ (Sp. *estar*)
- b. Müle-ka-la-i ruka mew.
 be₂-CONT-NEG-IND[3SG] house POSP
 ‘S/he is still not in the house.’ (Sp. *estar*)
- (9) Kisu chi wentru payla-künu-tu-rke-fi ta chi
 DP ART man get.on.one’s.back-leave-REST-REP-3OBJ[3SG] PTCL ART
 domo.
 woman
 ‘The man left the woman on her back again, they say.’ (Salas 2006: 267)

2.3.5 Existence

We already saw the two existential verbs *ngen* and *mülen* at the beginning of this section. Now also note that they stand in a polarity-based opposition that is still not well understood. Compare the question and the answer in (10), which tend to use different verbs; the affirmative question uses *mülen*, whereas the negative answer apparently favors *ngen* (although *mülen* was also possible, and perhaps still is).

- (10) Q: Müle-i chadi?
 exist₂-IND[3SG] salt
 ‘Is there any salt?’ (Augusta 1916: 55)

- A: Nge-la-i. / Müle-la-i.
 exist₁-NEG-IND[3SG] exist₂-NEG-IND[3SG]
 ‘No, there isn’t any.’ (Augusta 1916: 55, 179)

See also both assertions in (11), which use more closely related elements (“the same verb” *nge*) but different constructions ((11a) being the default clause with a verbal predicate and a nominal argument, and (11b) being an example of verbalization via *-nge*; cf. §2.3.6).

- (11) a. Nge-la-i chadi.
 exist₁-NEG-IND[3SG] salt
 ‘There is no salt.’ (Smeets 2008: 125)
 b. Chadi-nge-la-i.
 salt-have₂-NEG-IND[3SG]
 ‘It is not salty / it does not have salt.’ (Smeets 2008: 126)

That the opposition is not triggered by the question-answer frame can be seen from example (12), which shows negative *ngelan* and affirmative *mülen* occurring in the same (non-interrogative) sentence.

- (12) Nge-la-i i-al, welu petu müle-we-i
 exist₁-NEG-IND[3SG] eat-FUT.NFIN but still exist₂-already-IND[3SG]
 putu-al.
 drink-FUT.NFIN
 ‘There is no food, but there still is [something] left to drink.’ (Smeets 2008: 200)

Descriptive studies on Mapudungun have not addressed this (partial) polarity-based opposition so far, and my informants produce somewhat inconsistent data and have only rather vague intuitions as to what is at work here, so more research is needed in order to ascertain how advanced *nge-la-* might be on its way to becoming a negative existential. Assuming Mapudungun does not (yet) distinguish negators for existential and other verbal expressions, it belongs to Type A in Croft’s (1991) model (see also Veselinova 2014).

2.3.6 Possession

Functionally mirroring the two copular/existential predicates, but showing an unexpected formal distribution, there are two ways to express predicative posses-

sion in Mapudungun.⁹ One is with the verb *nien* ‘have₁’ (13a); it is an individual-level default predicate used for permanent possession. The other is *ngen* ‘have₂’ (13b); it is a stage-level suffixal predicate used for temporary possession. *ngen* shows a tendency to be used for temporary possession but this is not so clearcut as it is also used with kinship terms (see below). Both can be covered by Spanish *tener* (*ngen* ‘have₂’ can also be rendered colloquially as *estar con*, lit. ‘be with’) and English *have*.

- (13) a. Nie-i epu kawell.
 have₁-IND[3SG] two horse
 ‘S/he has two horses.’ (individual level: unmarked possession)
- b. Kawellu-nge-i.
 horse-have₂-IND[3SG]
 ‘S/he has a horse (right now).’ (stage level; marked possession, Sp. lit. *está con caballo*)

Notably, temporary-possession *-nge* is also found with some kinship nouns and even with body-part nouns, e.g. *kure-nge-* (wife-have₂-) ‘be married (to a woman)’, *epu-namun-nge-* (two-foot-have₂-) ‘be two-footed/legged’.

With nouns where possession expresses ownership (e.g., *ruka* ‘house’ in (14a)), permanent-possession *nien* ‘have₁’ is the default option. Temporary-possession *-nge* is occasionally used with unmovable objects like houses as well (e.g. in (14b)).

- (14) a. Nie-la-i kiñe ruka.
 have₁-NEG-IND[3SG] one house
 ‘S/he does not have a house.’
- b. Kiñe-ruka-nge-la-i.
 one-house-have₂-NEG-IND[3SG]
 ‘She does not have a house (and her husband has more than one wife).’ (based on Augusta 1903: 9)

2.3.7 Equation / identity predication

Nominal clauses are invariably used for equational constructions (i.e., ‘NP_X ≡ NP_Y’), and occasionally for proper-inclusion constructions (i.e., ‘NP_X ∈ {NP_Y}’). To judge from the extant lexicographic evidence, the latter usage seems to have appeared or spread in the 20th century; it may have originated in elliptical constructions (e.g., NP_X NP_Y-nge-i > NP_X NP_Y). In general, nominal clauses often

⁹See Olate et al. (2018) for a comprehensive treatment of possession in Mapudungun.

include a particle/proclitic *ta*, especially when the second NP is definite. The exact formal (wordhood-related) properties of *nu* in such constructions are still to be investigated.

The examples in (15) illustrate equational constructions; (15a) is the default construction and (15b) is a fronted variant that conveys some sort of emphasis (presumably: contrastive focus).

- (15) a. [Fey-chi domo]_X [(ta) ñi ina-n lamngen]_Y.
 DEM-ATTR woman PTCL 1SG.POSS follow-NFIN sister
 ‘That woman is my youngest sister.’ (Smeets 2008: 143)
- b. [Iñche]_Y nu, [ta ti]_X.
 1SG NEG PTCL ART
 ‘That is not me/mine.’ (Smeets 2008: 144)

Examples (16a–16b) illustrate negated proper-inclusion constructions (see §2.3.2 above). (16c) illustrates a slightly different kind of negated equational construction, where the first member of the equation is covert.

- (16) a. Fey_X [wentru]_Y nu.
 DEM man NEG
 ‘He is not a man.’ (Smeets 2008: 144) (Also: *fey wentru-nge-la-i*, cf. §2.3.2)
- b. [Tüfa-chi pu che kom]_X [mapuche]_Y nu?
 this-ATTR PL person all M. NEG
 ‘Are these people not all Mapuche?’ (Smeets 2008: 144)
- c. Tunte kulli-lle-li rume, Ø_X [mütewe]_Y nu.
 how.much pay-AFF-1SG.SBJV ever much NEG
 ‘No matter how much I paid, it was not much.’ (Smeets 2008: 144)

2.3.8 Summary

Table 3 below schematically summarizes the stative constructions presented above. The symbol Σ represents verbal stems (which may be complex in that they may consist of more than just roots, and/or they may include several roots/stems), and {NEG} represents the set of negator allomorphs *-ki*, *-la*, and *-nu*. In addition to the semantic kinds location, attribution, existence, possession, and proper inclusion, individual-level and stage-level predication have to be distinguished in order to properly account for the distribution of the forms. The functional status of *(-)nge(-)* ‘be’ is quite complex, appearing as it does in both individual-level and stage-level predications of different kinds.

Table 3: Summary of Stative Predication Constructions (Verbal/Non-verbal)

	Individual-level (= unmarked)		Stage-level (= temporary)	
	Affirmative	Negative	Affirmative	Negative
Location	–	–	Σ-	Σ-{NEG}-
Attribution	Σ(-nge)-	Σ(-nge)-{NEG}-	Σ-le-	Σ-le-{NEG}-
Existence	–	–	müle-/nge-	nge-{NEG}-
Possession	nie-	nie-{NEG}-	NP-nge-	NP-nge-{NEG}-
Proper inclusion	NP-nge-	NP-nge-{NEG}-		
Equation	NP NP	NP NP <i>nu</i>	–	–

2.4 Negation in dependent clauses

Dependent clauses are headed either by verbs in the *l*-marked subjunctive mood (17) (see also Table 2 above) or by nonfinite verbs that are unmarked for mood and take a specialized ending (e.g., *-el*, *-lu*, *-n*, *-am*; (18) illustrates a *lu*-form). Both kinds are negated by suffixing *-nu* to the predicate.

- (17) a. Feyengün aku-fu-le!
3PL arrive-RI-3.SBJV
‘If only they (PL) would arrive!’
b. Feyengün aku-nu-fu-le!
3PL arrive-NEG-RI-3.SBJV
‘If only they (PL) would not arrive!’ (Smeets 2008: 184)
- (18) a. Ngilla-la-a-i kofke nie-lu plata.
buy-NEG-FUT-IND[3SG] bread have-NFIN money
‘He who has money will not buy bread.’
b. Ngilla-la-a-i kofke nie-nu-lu plata.
buy-NEG-FUT-IND[3SG] bread have-NEG-NFIN money
‘He who has no money will not buy bread.’ (Smeets 2008: 189)

Like standard negation, dependent-clause negation is constructionally and paradigmatically symmetrical. Nevertheless, the negator does show some (free) variation: it can occur either as *-nu* or as *-no*.

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

The old nonverbal negator *müg*, which also occurred as *mü*, *mu* or *me*, was used – possibly until the mid-20th century – as negative answer to questions, i.e., as a counterpart to affirmative *may*.¹⁰ Nowadays the default negator *nu* ~ *no*, possibly under the influence of the Spanish negator *no*, has replaced *müg* in this function. (See Moesbach 1962: 166–167: for more details.) The usual answer to a question also includes the verbal predicate, as seen in example (19).

- (19) a. A: Allkü-i-m-i?
 hear-IND-2-SG
 ‘Did you (SG) hear?’
 B: (Allkü-n) may.
 hear-1SG.IND AFF
 ‘Yes, I did.’ (Moesbach 1962: 166)
 b. A: Allkü-la-i-m-i nga?
 hear-NEG-IND-2-SG DP
 ‘Didn’t you (SG) hear?’
 B: Mü (allkü-la-n).
 NEG hear-NEG-1SG.IND
 ‘No, I didn’t.’ (Moesbach 1962: 166)

Straightforward negative questions like (19b) above appear to be somewhat disfavored in normal discourse; they are extremely rare in narratives, and speakers seem to prefer to embed negative expressions in affirmative questions and/or reported-speech structures, especially if the clause consists of more than a more predicate, but more research is needed here.

Both affirmative and negative replies above refer to the propositional content, rather than to the polarity of the question. However, see the following example of the usage of *may* in (20b), in which it agrees with the polarity of the negative assertion in (20a) made in a previous section of a reported dialog taken from Salas (2006: 226–227).

- (20) a. Eymu ta ka fele-la-fu-i-m-u ka.
 2DU PTCL PTCL be.SO-NEG-RI-IND-2-DU DP
 ‘You two would not be like that, either.’

¹⁰I am grateful to Aldo Olate for reminding me of the existence of the old negator *müg*.

- b. Fele-i may. Iñchiw may fele-la-fu-i-i-u.
 be.SO-IND[3SG] AFF 1DU AFF be.SO-NEG-RI-IND-1-DU
 ‘It is true. We both were certainly not like that.’

It is the postverbal element *ka* (cf. 20a) that is used to refer to the polarity of the question, similarly to the German polarity-reversing particle *doch* (see Moser 2019);¹¹ see example (21) (based on Augusta 1916: 71).

- (21) Q. Amu-la-i-m-i nga?
 go-NEG-IND-2-SG DP
 ‘Didn’t you (SG) go?’
 A. Amu-n ka.
 go-1SG.IND DP
 ‘I did go.’

3.2 Negative indefinites

As in other South American languages (e.g., in Quechuan), the negator *nu* co-occurs with *rume* ‘-ever, even, at least’ in negative indefinites, as shown in (22).¹²

- (22) a. *iney-rume* ‘who(m)ever’
 iney-nu-rume ‘nobody’ (cf. *iney* ‘who’)
 b. *chem-rume* ‘whatever’
 chem-nu-rume ‘nothing’ (cf. *chem* ‘what’)
 c. *chew-rume* ‘wherever’
 chew-nu-rume ‘nowhere’ (cf. *chew* ‘where’)

Note the opposition in (23) between the negator appearing only on the verb (23a), the negator appearing only in the indefinite expression (23b), and the co-occurrence of two negators in the same clause (23c). (The latter is possibly found with an emphatic function, but more research is needed on this.)

¹¹Like *rume* (see §3.2 and §4.5), *ka* is notoriously polyfunctional: as a verbal suffix, it expresses continuity; as an adjectival root, it means ‘(an)other’; as a conjunction, it means ‘and’; preposed to a verb, it usually means ‘again’ (but apparently not in 20a).

¹²See also §4.5 for other uses of the negators and *rume*. The latter element has a wide variety of (arguably related) functions: as a verbal suffix, it means ‘suddenly’; as an adverb preceding adjectives, it means ‘very, much, exceedingly’; as a bimorphemic verb stem, it means ‘pass there’.

- (23) a. Doy chem-rume nie-ke-la-fu-i-i-n.
 more what-ever have-HAB-NEG-RI-IND-1-PL
 ‘We (PL) did not have anything more.’¹³ (Smeets 2008: 244)
- b. Doy chem-nu-rume nie-ke-fu-i-i-n.
 more what-NEG-ever have-HAB-RI-IND-1-PL
 ‘We (PL) had nothing more.’ (Smeets 2008: 244)
- c. Chumkaw-nu-rume feypi-la-a-n.
 how-NEG-ever say-NEG-FUT-1SG.IND
 ‘I won’t say it under any circumstances.’ (Catrileo 2010: 129;
 orthography adapted)

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

There do not appear to exist any lexically idiosyncratic negatives in the language. By a similar token, none of the negators are used as the sole means to derive lexemes. In particular, *nu* is not used as English *-less* with nominal or adjectival stems, or as Latin/Spanish *dis-* ~ *des-* ~ *de-* (e.g., *disculpar* ‘excuse’) *an-* or *iN-* (e.g., *analfabeto* ‘illiterate’), or *no* (e.g., *tratado de no proliferación (de armas nucleares)* ‘non-proliferation treaty (for nuclear weapons)’), with nominal or verbal stems. Moreover, Mapudungun speakers do not normally borrow Spanish negative-prefix items but prefer to resort to the vernacular means of expression, i.e. verbal negation. Consider, for instance, that the language expresses ‘be difficult’ and ‘not be difficult / be easy’, respectively, via verbalization: *küdaw-nge-* (work-be₁-) and *küdaw-nge-la-* (work-be₁-NEG-). By a similar token, a negated nonfinite *el*-verb form is turned into an attributive adjective in (24).

- (24) rakiduam-nie-no-el-chi antü mew
 think-have-NEG-NFIN-ATTR day POSP
 ‘someday soon’ (lit. ‘on the day not thought of’, possibly from Spanish *el día menos pensado*) (Augusta 1916: 119)

Perhaps unsurprisingly, the only element comparable to the English or Spanish negative prefixes is originally verbal, namely *nge-no-* ‘not being’ (cf. *ngeno longko* ‘headless’, lit. ‘without a head’). In most nonverbal instances, *ngeno* seems

¹³The marker *-fu* ‘RUPTURED IMPLICATURE’ is a “metapragmatic operator that acts to warn against, block, or rupture conventional implicature in speech” (Golluscio 2000: 240). It can have a temporal interpretation (‘it is no longer the case that [CLAUSE]’), but it is often orthogonal to temporal considerations (‘whatever we expected to happen because of [CLAUSE] did not come to pass’).

to be an adposition (‘without’) rather than a prefix (‘-less’), cf. *ngeno düngu* ‘without cause, for no reason’ vs. *ngeno fücha düngu* ‘for no good reason’ (Augusta 1916: 67). Augusta (1916) gives a handful of adverbial nonfinite forms that might be good candidates for lexicalization (e.g. *ngeno-rakiduam-n* ‘inconsiderately’, lit. ‘not thinking’; *ngeno-yewe-n* ‘shamelessly’, lit. ‘not being ashamed’), but this area needs much more research. My impression is that present-day speakers regularly use nominalizations that possibly show univertation, like *ñi newen-nge-no-n* (1SG.POSS strength-be₁-NEG-NFIN) ‘my weakness’, lit. ‘my not having strength’ (Augusta 1916: 102).

4 Other aspects of negation

Sections §2 and §3 above outline our current knowledge about negative structures in Mapudungun. Nevertheless, several additional features of Mapudungun grammatical and lexical structure need to be explored in greater detail, both for the language in general and in the context of negation, in order to arrive at a really comprehensive picture. For the most part, I limit myself in the following subsections to making explicit suggestions for further research.

4.1 The scope of negation

Any elements other than verbs that need to be negated take the constituent negator *nu* ~ *no*. Example (25) illustrates a negated adverbial phrase.

- (25) Dewma mari tripanu nie-el tripa-n ñi küdaw-a-el,
 already ten year have-NFIN exit-1SG.IND 1SG.POSS work-FUT-NFIN
 welu müte kamapu nu.
 but very far.away NEG
 ‘When I was already ten years old, I went away to work, but not very far
 away.’ (Smeets 2008: 245)

Not much is known about scope relations in general in Mapudungun. The scope of negation needs to be addressed by further research.

4.2 Negative polarity

Despite some pioneering work on particles in Smeets (2008: Ch.32), Mapudungun particles are still only poorly understood, so at least some negative or affirmative polarity items might be found there once those items are analyzed thoroughly and exhaustively.

Mapudungun equivalents of English pairs like *no longer* / *any longer* make transparent use of negators, but equivalents of *somewhat*, *at all*, etc. do not seem to exist in the language. The main element to take into account here is (-) *rume* ‘-ever, even, at least’. In addition to what is outlined in Sections 3.2 and 4.5, see for instance the elements *chumül/chumel* ‘when’ and *chumngechi* ‘how’, which can be used interrogatively and in assertions, either with or without negation, to signify ‘always’/‘never’ and ‘however’/‘in no way whatsoever’, respectively. It is worth noting that these items differ as to their status as negative polarity items.

Two items related to *chumül/chumel* ‘when’ merit special attention in the context of polarity items, namely *rumel* and *turpu*. They both seemed to have been used interchangeably a century ago, with the meaning ‘always’ with an unmarked verb and ‘never’ with a negated verb (as unmistakably exemplified in Augusta 1903, 1916), and without the elements *-no-rume* (found on *chumülnorume* ‘never’, for instance). Nevertheless, present-day speakers appear to prefer the distribution described in Smeets (2008), where *rumel* is invariably used with unmarked verbs (26a) and *turpu* only occurs with negated verbs (26b) (and is customarily translated as ‘never’).¹⁴

- (26) a. Rumel küpal-a-i yewün.
 always₁ bring-FUT-IND[3PL] present(s)
 ‘They always bring presents.’ (Smeets 2008: 555)
- b. Eymi turpu tripa-ke-la-i-m-i.
 2SG always₂ go.out-HAB-NEG-IND-2-SG
 ‘You (sg) never go out.’ (Smeets 2008: 559)

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Mapudungun does not have case morphology or adpositions that mark either core or peripheral grammatical relations. The only candidate for case status is the enclitic postposition *mew* ~ *mu* ~ *mo*, but it does not interact with negation in any special way,¹⁵ so no case alternations of the Russian, Finnish, or Basque type are found in the language. To the best of my knowledge, neither spatial, temporal nor causal adpositions interact with negation in any way.

¹⁴The specialization process seems to have begun a long time ago. In Coña (1995), which collects narratives by a Mapuche chieftain of the early 20th century, *turpu* appears only with negated verbs, and *rumel* appears five times with an unmarked verb and only once with a negated verb.

¹⁵See Smeets 2008: 61–67 who treats the semantically void postposition *mew* as “instrumental case suffix”.

Neither the conditions governing the use of determiners nor the regularities shown by information-structure categories like topics and focuses are well understood for Mapudungun, so this is an area where much more research is needed.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Very little is known about Mapudungun prosody, so future research will hopefully show how negation can be prosodically reinforced, if at all. The only pattern I am aware of that may turn out to be related to reinforcement is the co-occurrence of two negators in the same clause (example (23c) above). See also example (29) below.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

With affirmative clauses, *ka* ‘and’ can, but need not, be used as coordinator. The Mapudungun equivalent to expressions with negative coordinators (like English *neither ... nor...*, or Spanish *ni... ni...*) uses the element *rume* ‘even, at least’ (see §3.2) in the units following the first one (if they are only two, in the second unit). See in example (27) from Augusta (1916: 253) how all units may structurally parallel, each with the same negator (27a), or only the first is a complete clause while the others are elliptical (27b).

- (27) a. I-ke-la-n, umag-ke-la-n rume.
eat-HAB-NEG-1SG.IND sleep-HAB-NEG-1SG.IND even
‘I neither eat nor sleep.’
- b. Juan “razón nie-i” pi-la-a-i-m-i-mew, Pedro no
Juan reason have-IND[3SG] say-NEG-FUT-IND-2-SG-3A P. NEG
rume.
even
‘Neither Juan nor Pedro will agree with you (SG).’ (lit. ‘Juan won’t tell you “It’s correct,” [and] neither will Pedro.’)

The language has an adversative conjunction *welu* ‘but’, equivalent to English *but* (and Spanish *pero*) in *this is not a cat, but it is a dog*, but there is no equivalent to English *but* (and Spanish *sino*) in *this is not a cat but a dog*. The usual way to express [*not* PROPOSITION₁ *but* PROPOSITION₂] is simply to express the first proposition in the negative and the second in the affirmative, and juxtapose both, as in example (28).

- (28) Juan fem-la-i, Pedro fem-i.
 Juan do.so-NEG-IND[3SG] P. do.so-IND[3SG]
 ‘Juan did not do it, but Pedro did.’ (Augusta 1916: 356)

I am not aware of any element equivalent to the English negative conjunction *lest* in Mapudungun.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

Unfortunately, not much is known about clause linkage idiosyncrasies, and metalinguistic targeting (e.g., “metalinguistic negation”). Raising/control phenomena have attracted some attention in the literature (see some notes on argument marking with affirmative raising and control predicates in Zúñiga 2019, and references therein), but the question of negative transport (“negation raising”) has not been explored yet.

Co-occurrence of different negators in different loci of the same clause is found in corpora and can be easily elicited, but the factors conditioning this phenomenon, as well as its possible interaction with parallel co-occurrences in non-standard Southern Cone Spanish, have not been studied yet (as mentioned in §3.2). It seems that reinforcement/emphasis of some sort is involved; the idea conveyed by *chumkawnorume* in (29) is ‘no matter how hard they tried’.

- (29) Kiñe kentu tu-i-ngün toki. Feymew ulel-fi-i tachi pu orkon
 one group take-IND-3PL axe with.them hit-3OBJ-IND[3] ART PL post
 katr-a-fu-el engün, welu chumkaw-no-rume katrü-la-fi-i-ngün.
 cut-FUT-RI-NFIN 3PL but how-NEG-ever cut-NEG-3OBJ-IND-3PL
 ‘A group (of people) took some axes. They used them to hit the posts in
 order to cut them, but they did not succeed.’ (lit. ‘they did not cut them.’)
 (Salas 2006: 248; orthography adapted)

It is worth noting that the verbal negators co-occur with some other markers in combinations that have drawn some attention in the previous literature and will hopefully be addressed systematically soon (Zúñiga et al. (2024)). The markers *-we* ‘already’ and *-pe* ‘DUBITATIVE’ are particularly salient in this regard. I have glossed the combined sequence *-we-la* as cessative elsewhere (Zúñiga 2006), because it expresses the meaning ‘no more, not anymore’ (30a); it is compositional, however, and partly unexpected only because other languages belong to the ‘no more’ type instead of the ‘already not’ type (van der Auwera (1998)). The sequence *-pe-la*, by contrast, is not compositional: it expresses confidence/likelihood, i.e., an epistemic modal meaning not simply derivable from the negated dubitative (30b).

- (30) a. Doy wangkü-l-nge-we-la-i.
 more bark-APPL-PASS-already-NEG-IND[3SG]
 ‘They did not bark at him anymore.’ (Salas 2006: 262)
- b. Aña-pela-a-i.
 hurt-MOD-FUT-IND[3SG]
 ‘It is probably going to hurt.’ (Smeets 2008: 250)
 (cf. *aña-pe-a-i* ‘it may hurt’)

Finally, as to the diachrony of negation, nothing is known about the negators’ origins – which is unlikely to change in the future, unless some documented languages can be shown to be genealogically related to Mapudugun and some linguistic reconstruction can be conducted. The oldest grammatical description (Valdivia 1606) already records *-nu* in the same form as it is found today, making it unlikely for the marker itself to be a Spanish loan. This may also hold for the particle *nu*.

The apparent expansion of *-nu* in the imperative paradigms is possibly due to, or may at least have been reinforced by, contact with Southern Cone Spanish. In the latter language, the only dedicated imperative form is 2SG affirmative *canta* ‘sing!’;¹⁶ all others are (originally) subjunctive forms (see Table 4). (Note that imperative and subjunctive forms still differ in the affirmative with respect to the admissible location of the clitic group (CLT).)

Table 4: Southern Cone Spanish imperative and present subjunctive (*a*-class verbs)

	Affirmative		Negative	
	Imperative(=CLT)	(CLT=)Subjunctive	(CLT=)Imperative	(CLT=)Subjunctive
2SG	<i>cant-a</i>	<i>cant-e-s</i>	<i>no cant-e-s</i>	
3SG		<i>cant-e</i>	<i>no cant-e</i>	
1PL		<i>cant-e-mos</i>	<i>no cant-e-mos</i>	
2PL/ 3PL		<i>cant-e-n</i>	<i>no cant-e-n</i>	

¹⁶This also holds for Rioplatense Spanish and other similar varieties, which have, e.g., a *voseante* 2SG imperative *cantá* alongside or instead of the etymological, non-*voseante*, *canta*. See Baquero Velásquez & Westphal Montt (2014) for a recent analysis and references.

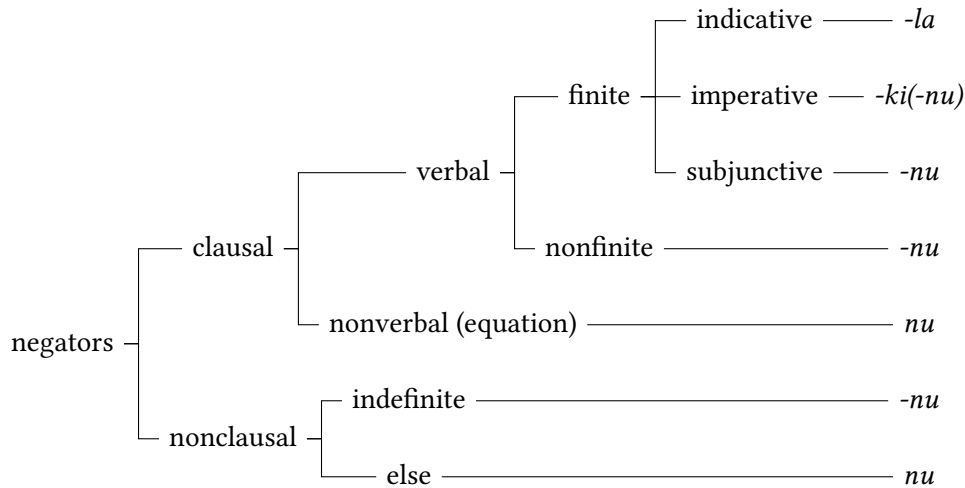
5 Summary

The negators presented and discussed in this paper are summarized in Table 5 below. The standard negator *-la* and the imperative negative *-ki* have a limited occurrence vis-à-vis the default negators *-nu* (bound) and *nu* (possibly more autonomous), which occur in a variety of contexts. Rather than transitivity, tense, or aspect, the factors conditioning the observed allomorphy in Mapudungun are finiteness and modality (with clausality and verbality playing a background role, so to speak).

HC: @Sebastian /LSP: Can you make that table look good? That would be the author's first choice. If that is not possible, then the tree would be possible too

Table 5: Overview of Mapudungun negators

Clausal	Verbal	Finite	Indicative	<i>-la</i>
			Imperative	<i>-ki(-nu)</i>
			Subjunctive	<i>-nu</i>
	Nonfinite		<i>-nu</i>	
	Nonverbal (equation)		<i>nu</i>	
Nonclausal	Indefinite		<i>-nu</i>	
	Else		<i>nu</i>	



Abbreviations

1	first person	IND	indicative
2	second person	INF	infinitive
2>1	second person acting on first person	MOD	modality
3	third person	NEG	negation
A	agentive participant of bivalent predicate	NFIN	nonfinite
AFF	affirmative	NP	noun phrase
APPL	applicative	NSG	nonsingular
ART	article	OBJ	object
ATTR	attributive	PTCL	particle
CLT	clitic group	PASS	passive
CIS	cislocative	PL	plural
CONT	continuative	POSP	postposition
DEM	demonstrative	PROG	progressive
DP	discourse particle	PSR	possessor
DU	dual	REP	reportative
ELS	extended local scenario	RES	resultative
FUT	future	REST	restitutive
HAB	habitual	RI	ruptured implicature
IMP	imperative	SBJV	subjunctive
		SG	singular

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